P O L Y B I U S

The Histories

A Modern English Translation — Books I–XXXIX

Translated from the Greek by Claude, Anthropic's family of AI models. Directed and edited by Christopher Duffy, Sr..

The Fifty-Three Years (264–146 BC): Rome's rise from regional Italian republic to Mediterranean master.

Translator's Preface

Pragmatike Historia presents Polybius's *Histories* — his account of how, in the fifty-three years from 220 to 167 BC, Rome came to rule the Mediterranean world — in a modern English translation of the Greek that survives. The title borrows Polybius's own name for his method: pragmatic history, the study of causes and consequences by someone who has seen events at first hand or questioned those who did.

The text translated

The translation is made from the Greek text of Büttner-Wobst (Teubner, 1889–1905), as made available through the Perseus Digital Library. It was produced by Claude, Anthropic's family of AI models, working chapter by chapter from the Greek. Each chapter was then checked against the Greek by a second pass, and chapters where the first English departed from the Greek were retranslated. An older public-domain English version of 1889 served as a crib for chapter numbering and for hard passages; it was not used as the wording of this edition.

What is and is not here

- Books 1–39 are translated in full as far as the Greek survives. Books 1–5 are complete; the later books are in large part fragments preserved by later writers.
- **Book 17** does not survive; a note says so.
- **Book 40**, the index to the *Histories*, and the unplaced fragments beyond Book 39 are not included. The closing summary at 39.8 is.
- Chapters preserved in quotation by other authors are marked with the quoting author where the source names them.

Conventions

- **Gaps.** A gap in the Greek is marked `[ . . . ]`. Nothing is supplied to fill it.
- **Peoples.** Peoples of Italy and Europe are called Gauls; those who settled in Asia Minor are Galatians. "Celts" appears only in an explicitly ethnographic remark. Spartans appear in narrative; "Lacedaemonians" is kept for treaties, embassies and official language.
- **Names and dates.** Rivers take their modern names (Ebro, Po, Danube, Rhone); cities and regions keep their ancient names. Years are written `215 BC`, ranges `210–206 BC`.
- **Measures.** Distances are in stades, as in the Greek; the camp chapters of Book 6 keep Polybius's feet.

- **Chapters.** Chapter numbers follow the standard divisions. Where a division breaks a sentence, the unfinished sentence is moved under the next heading.

Limits

This is a translation by a machine, and it makes the errors of one: a lacuna read straight over, a sense inverted, a name mistaken. Many were found and corrected in the checking described above; some will remain. Corrections are welcome.

Licence

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Illustrations

The covers, website banners, social cards, chapter headpieces and the thirty-nine book frontispieces were generated with Google's Gemini models in the manner of a nineteenth-century archaeological folio: copperplate linework with restrained watercolor on parchment. Compositions were directed and checked against third- and second-century BC material culture (Hellenistic Greek, Republican Roman, Carthaginian, Numidian and Gallic dress, arms and ships).

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Book I

The Roman corvus boarding bridge in action at the Battle of Mylae (260 BC). Book I, 22–23.

Chapter 1 Introduction

If it had happened that the writers before us who recorded events had left out praise of history itself, perhaps it would have been necessary to urge everyone toward choosing and accepting works of this kind, since no correction for human beings is readier than knowledge of past actions.

But since not just some writers, or to some degree, but virtually all of them have used this theme from beginning to end, saying that learning from history is the truest education and training for political action, and that the clearest—and indeed the only—teacher of how to bear the changes of fortune nobly is the memory of other people's reversals, it is obvious that no one should think it his duty to repeat what has already been well said by many, and least of all I.

For the extraordinary nature of the events I have chosen to write about is enough in itself to challenge and stir every reader, young and old alike, to engage with this work.

For who is so base or idle that he would not want to know how, and under what kind of constitution, nearly the whole inhabited world was conquered and brought under the single rule of Rome in less than fifty-three years—a thing for which no earlier example can be found?

And again, who is so absorbed in other spectacles or studies that he would think anything more important than gaining this knowledge?

Chapter 2 Importance and Magnitude of the Subject

As for how astonishing and great the subject of my work is, nothing will make it clearer than comparing the most famous powers of earlier times—those on which historians have spent most of their words—with the superiority of Rome.

The powers worthy of such comparison are these. The Persians acquired a great empire and dominion for certain periods; but whenever they dared to go beyond the limits of Asia, they endangered not only their empire but their very survival.

The Spartans disputed the leadership of Greece for many years, but once they gained it, they held it undisputed for barely twelve years.

The Macedonians ruled in Europe from the regions by the Adriatic as far as the Danube, and that would appear to be only a very small part of the continent just mentioned.

Afterward they added rule over Asia by overthrowing the Persian empire. Yet though they seemed to have become masters of more lands and affairs than anyone before them, they still left the greater part of the inhabited world outside their power.

For they never once even attempted to contest Sicily, Sardinia, or Libya, and, to speak plainly, they did not so much as know the most warlike peoples of western Europe.

The Romans, by contrast, made subject to themselves not some parts, but almost the whole inhabited world, and they left behind a supremacy that no one now living can resist and that no one in future ages can surpass.

From the narrative itself it will be possible to see this more clearly, and likewise to understand how great and how numerous are the benefits that practical history naturally offers to those eager to learn.

Chapter 3 The Starting-point of the History

My work will begin, in point of time, with the 140th Olympiad; and in point of events, with the war among the Greeks called the Social War, first undertaken by Philip, son of Demetrius and father of Perseus, together with the Achaeans against the Aetolians; in Asia, with the war for Coele-Syria, which Antiochus and Ptolemy Philopator fought against one another; and in the regions of Italy and Libya, with the war between Romans and Carthaginians, the one most people call the Hannibalic War. These events follow directly on the final point reached in the history of Aratus of Sicyon.

In the times before this, the affairs of the inhabited world were, so to speak, scattered, because each event differed from the others in its plans, in its results, and in its location.

But from this point onward history becomes, as it were, organic: the affairs of Italy and Libya are interwoven with those of Asia and Greece, and all events are referred to one single end.

That is why I have made this period the starting point of my work.

For after defeating the Carthaginians in the war already mentioned, the Romans judged that they had accomplished the chief and greatest part of the task leading to control of the whole world, and so for the first time they dared to stretch out their hands toward what remained and to cross with an army into Greece and the regions of Asia.

Now if the constitutions that contended for world supremacy had been familiar and well known to us, perhaps I would have had no need to explain before my narrative from what purpose or what power they set out when they undertook enterprises of such scale and kind.

But since most Greeks have no ready knowledge of the earlier strength and achievements of either the Roman or the Carthaginian state, I concluded that it was necessary to compose this book and the next before the history proper, so that no one, once he has come to the narrative itself, may be at a loss and ask with what plans, what forces, and what resources the Romans embarked on those ventures

through which they came to control all the land and sea in our part of the world, but that from these books and the preliminary account in them it may be clear to readers that they set out on their design with entirely reasonable advantages, and that in carrying it through they reached universal rule and dominion.

Chapter 4 Comprehensive View

The special feature of my work, and the marvelous thing about the age we are dealing with, is this: just as Fortune turned almost all the affairs of the inhabited world in one direction and forced them all to incline toward one and the same goal, so too history must bring before its readers, in a single view, the way Fortune handled events to bring the whole to completion.

Indeed this above all is what drew me on and stirred me to undertake this history, along with the fact that no one in our time has attempted a connected account of general events; otherwise I would have been far less eager for this distinction.

As it is, I see many writers treating particular wars and some of the events accompanying them, but as for the general and collective ordering of events—when and from what starting point it began, and how it reached its end—no one, so far as I know, has even tried to investigate it.

I therefore judged it absolutely necessary not to pass over, or allow to pass unnoticed, this finest and most beneficial display of Fortune's workings.

For although Fortune produces many novelties and is constantly contending in the lives of men, she has never before quite simply accomplished such a feat, or staged such a contest, as in our own time.

And this is not something one can grasp from writers of particular histories, any more than someone could think he understood the shape of the whole world, its arrangement and order, by visiting its most famous cities one by one—or, by Zeus, even by looking at them separately in pictures.

In my judgment, those who think they can gain an adequate view of the whole through partial history are much like people who, after seeing the scattered limbs of some once living and beautiful body, imagine that they have become sufficient eyewitnesses of the creature's power and beauty.

But if someone were at once to put the living thing together again and restore it in full, complete in form and in the grace of its life, and then show it to those same people, I think they would quickly admit that earlier they had fallen far short of the truth and had been little better than dreamers.

For from a part one can gain some notion of the whole, but not exact knowledge or sure understanding.

Therefore particular history must be judged to contribute only a very small part toward experience and confidence regarding the whole.

Only through the interweaving and comparison of all the parts together, through their likenesses and differences, can someone attain a full view and, in so doing, draw from history both its usefulness and its pleasure.

Chapter 5 The Romans in Sicily

I shall take as the starting point of this book the first crossing of the Romans from Italy. This follows directly upon the point where Timaeus left off, and it falls in the 129th Olympiad.

So I must explain how and when they secured their position in Italy, and with what opportunities they afterward set out to cross into Sicily; for that was the first land outside Italy on which they set foot.

I must also state the immediate cause of that crossing in simple terms, so that, in searching for the cause of a cause, the beginning of the whole subject and the understanding of it do not become unstable.

We must take as our starting point one that is agreed upon and recognized by everyone in point of time, and in point of events one that can be considered on its own terms, even if this requires us to go back a little in time and make a summary reminder of the events in between.

For if the starting point is unknown, or even disputed, none of what follows can command acceptance or belief; but once an agreed view about the beginning has been established, then the whole continuous narrative finds acceptance with its hearers.

Chapter 6 Roman Dominion in Italy

At that time it was the nineteenth year after the sea battle at Aegospotami and the sixteenth before the battle at Leuctra, the year in which the Lacedaemonians ratified the peace called the Peace of Antalcidas with the Persian king; in which Dionysius the Elder, after defeating the Greeks of Italy in the battle by the river Elleporus, was besieging Rhegium; and in which the Gauls, after taking Rome itself by storm, held the city except for the Capitol.

The Romans made a treaty and settlement with these Gauls on terms acceptable to them, and, unexpectedly recovering possession of their fatherland, they then took what was in effect the starting point of their rise and in the years that followed made war on their neighboring peoples.

After mastering all the Latins through courage and success in battle, they next fought the Tyrrhenians, then the Gauls, and afterward the Samnites, whose territory bordered Latium to the east and north.

Some time later the Tarentines, because of the outrage they had committed against Roman envoys and the fear this caused them, brought over Pyrrhus—in the year before the Gaulish invasion of the region around Delphi, when some of those Gauls were destroyed and others crossed into Asia.

By this time the Romans had made the Tyrrhenians and Samnites subject to themselves and had already defeated the Gauls of Italy in many battles; then for the first time they set out against the remaining parts of Italy, fighting not so much for foreign territory as, for the most part, for lands already their own and rightfully attached to them, since their struggles with the Samnites and Gauls had made them true athletes in the labors of war.

They bore this war nobly, and in the end drove both Pyrrhus and his forces out of Italy. After that they again made war on the peoples who had joined him and subdued them.

Thus, in a remarkable way, they gained control of all Italy's inhabitants except the Gauls; and after this they undertook to besiege the Romans who were then holding Rhegium.

Chapter 7 Messene and Rhegium

A peculiar and similar misfortune befell both the cities built on either side of the strait, Messene and Rhegium.

Not many years before the time now under discussion, Campanians serving as mercenaries under Agathocles had long had greedy eyes on Messene because of the city's beauty and prosperity, and as soon as they found an opportunity they at once attempted a treacherous seizure.

They entered as friends, took possession of the city, drove some of the citizens out, and slaughtered others.

After this, they took for themselves the wives and children of the dispossessed men, each keeping whatever Fortune had assigned him at the very moment of the lawless deed; then they divided up the rest of the property and the land and held them.

Once they had swiftly and easily become masters of a fine land and city, they at once found imitators of their act.

For the people of Rhegium, when Pyrrhus was crossing into Italy, were alarmed by his invasion and also afraid of the Carthaginians because they controlled the sea, and so they drew from the Romans a garrison to guard and support them.

The troops who entered, four thousand in number, under the command of Decius the Campanian, for a while preserved both the city and their pledged faith.

But in the end, envying the Mamertines and taking them as accomplices, they too betrayed the Rhegians, being captivated both by the favorable position of the city and by the prosperity of the Rhegians in their private fortunes; and, after driving some citizens out and killing others, just as the Campanians had done, they seized the city.

The Romans were distressed by what had happened, but they could do nothing because they were occupied by the wars already mentioned.

Once they were free of these, they shut the men up and besieged Rhegium, as I said above.

When they took it, they killed most of them in the actual assault, since the men defended themselves desperately because they foresaw what was coming; but they captured alive more than three hundred.

These men were sent to Rome, and the consuls brought them into the forum, scourged them all according to Roman custom, and then beheaded them, wanting by the punishment of those offenders, so far as they could, to restore their credit for good faith among their allies.

The territory and city they immediately gave back to the Rhegians.

Chapter 8 The Rise of Hiero II

The Mamertines—for that was the name the Campanians gave themselves after they had taken possession of Messene—so long as they enjoyed the alliance of the Romans who held Rhegium not only remained securely in control of their own city and territory, but also caused no small trouble to the Carthaginians and Syracusans in the neighboring region, and exacted tribute from many parts of Sicily.

But when they were deprived of that support, after the men who held Rhegium had been shut up under siege, they in turn were quickly driven back into their city by the Syracusans, for reasons such as these.

Not long before this, the forces of Syracuse had quarreled with the citizens and, while encamped near Mergane, appointed commanders from among themselves: Artemidorus and Hiero, who afterward became king of Syracuse. He was still very young, but he had a natural gift for royal leadership and practical administration.

When he took over the command and, through certain relatives, made his way into the city and gained control over his political opponents, he handled affairs so mildly and nobly that the Syracusans, though they did not usually approve officers elected by the soldiers, were on this occasion unanimous in ratifying Hiero as their general.

From his very first measures it was immediately clear to those who judged rightly that he was aiming at ambitions greater than the office of general.

Chapter 9 Hiero Defeats the Mamertines

For he saw that whenever the Syracusans sent out their forces and their commanders with them, they themselves at home were always falling into faction and some new political disturbance.

And since he knew that Leptines stood far above the other citizens both in influence and in trustworthiness, and was especially well regarded by the common people, he formed a marriage

connection with him, wanting to leave him in the city as something like a reserve support whenever he himself had to go out with the army on campaign.

After marrying the daughter of the man mentioned, and observing that the old mercenaries were disaffected and turbulent, he led out an expedition ostensibly against the foreigners who held Messene.

He encamped opposite them near Centuripa and drew up his line by the river Cyamosorus. The citizen cavalry and infantry he kept with himself at a distance, as though he intended to engage the enemy at another point; but he pushed the mercenaries forward and allowed them all to be destroyed by the foreigners.

At the moment of their rout, he himself safely withdrew with the citizens to Syracuse.

Thus he carried out his purpose with skill and eliminated the whole turbulent and seditious element in the army. After recruiting for himself a sufficient number of mercenaries, he now managed the government in security.

Seeing that the foreigners, emboldened by their previous success, were behaving with daring and recklessness, he thoroughly armed and drilled the citizen forces, led them out, and engaged the enemy on the Mylaean plain near the river called Longanus.

He inflicted a severe rout on them and captured their leaders alive, thereby putting an end to the boldness of the foreigners; and when he came to Syracuse he was hailed as king by all the allies.

Chapter 10 The Mamertines and Rome

The Mamertines, then, first lost the support that came from Rhegium, as I said above, and then, because of the causes just described, suffered complete failure in their own affairs. Some of them fled to the Carthaginians and put themselves and the citadel into their hands; others sent envoys to the Romans, surrendering the city and asking for help on the ground that they were of the same stock.

The Romans were at a loss for a long time because the irrationality of giving such aid was obvious.

For after having only a little earlier inflicted the severest punishment on their own citizens because they had broken faith with the Rhegians, to seek at once to help the Mamertines, who had done much the same thing not only to the Messenians but also to the Rhegians, seemed an error impossible to defend.

Yet although they were fully aware of this, they also saw that the Carthaginians had made subject to themselves not only many parts of Libya, but also many parts of Iberia, and that they furthermore held all the islands in the Sardinian and Tyrrhenian seas. They were anxious that, if the Carthaginians also gained control of Sicily, they would become exceedingly burdensome and formidable neighbors, surrounding them on every side and threatening every part of Italy.

And it was clear that the Carthaginians would quickly bring Sicily under their power if the Mamertines did not get help.

For once Messene had been handed over to them and they had taken possession of it, they were likely in a short time to take Syracuse as well, since they already controlled almost all the rest of Sicily. Foreseeing this, and judging it necessary not to abandon Messene or allow the Carthaginians, as it were, to bridge the crossing into Italy for themselves, the Romans deliberated for a long time.

Chapter 11 Rome Supports the Mamertines

The Senate did not finally ratify the decision because of the reasons just given; for the absurdity of helping the Mamertines seemed evenly balanced against the advantages to be gained from that help.

The people, however, worn down by the previous wars and needing every kind of recovery, and hearing the generals point out not only the public advantage of the war but also the obvious and considerable private benefits that each man would gain, decided to send aid.

Once the decree had been ratified by the people, they appointed one of the consuls, Appius Claudius, as commander and sent him out with orders to assist and to cross over to Messene.

The Mamertines, partly by intimidation and partly by trickery, drove out the Carthaginian commander who had already taken possession of the citadel; and they invited Appius in and placed the city in his hands.

The Carthaginians crucified their commander, judging that he had surrendered the citadel both foolishly and cowardly.

They themselves encamped with their naval force near Pelorias, and with their land army near the place called Synes, and pressed the siege of Messene vigorously.

At this time Hiero, thinking the situation well suited for driving the foreigners who held Messene completely out of Sicily, made an agreement with the Carthaginians.

After this he marched out from Syracuse against the city just mentioned, and encamping on the other side near the place called Chalcidian Mount, cut off the men in the city from that exit as well.

The Roman commander Appius crossed the strait by night in a bold passage and came to Messene.

But when he saw the enemy pressing hard from every side and considered that the siege would be both shameful and dangerous for him, since the enemy controlled both land and sea, he first sent envoys to both parties, wanting to remove the Mamertines from the war altogether.

When neither side paid attention to him, he was at last compelled to hazard a battle and decided to attack the Syracusans first.

So he led his force out and drew it up for battle, and the king of the Syracusans readily came down to join the contest.

After fighting for a long time, Appius prevailed over the enemy and drove them all back as far as their stockade.

Appius then stripped the dead and returned again to Messene, while Hiero, taking a foreboding about the outcome of the larger struggle, withdrew in haste to Syracuse when night came.

Chapter 12 Appius Drives Off the Carthaginians

On the next day, when Appius learned of the withdrawal of the force just mentioned and so became confident, he decided not to delay but to attack the Carthaginians.

He therefore ordered the soldiers to make their preparations on time, and at first light he led them out.

When he engaged the enemy, he killed many of them and forced the rest to flee headlong into the neighboring towns.

Taking advantage of this success and raising the siege, he then marched through the country without fear, ravaging the territory both of the Syracusans and of their allies, since no one disputed his control of the open country; and at last he sat down before Syracuse itself and undertook to besiege it.

Such was the first Roman crossing from Italy with an army, and such were the causes and circumstances in which it took place.

Judging this to be the most fitting beginning for my whole design, I made it the point at which to take my stand, while going back in time so as to leave no difficulty unresolved in explaining the causes.

For I thought it necessary, if we were to follow what is to come and gain a proper general view of the main source of Rome's present supremacy, to see clearly how and when, after suffering disaster in their own fatherland, the Romans began to advance to a better position, and again how and when, after mastering Italy, they turned to enterprises beyond it.

So there is no need to be surprised if later on as well I sometimes go back in time when speaking of the most distinguished states.

For I will do this in order to take beginnings from which it will be possible to see clearly from what conditions, and when and how, each people set out and arrived at the position in which they now stand. That is exactly what I have just done in the case of the Romans.

Chapter 13 The First Punic War; Plan of the First Two Books

Now that I have said enough about these preliminary matters, it is time to turn to my main subject, after briefly and summarily setting out the events covered in the introductory books.

First in order come the events that befell Romans and Carthaginians in the war over Sicily.

Next comes the Libyan War, followed by the affairs in Iberia carried out by Hamilcar and after him by Hasdrubal on behalf of the Carthaginians.

In the same period occurred the Romans' first crossing into Illyria and those parts of Europe, and after the events already mentioned their struggles with the Gauls in Italy.

At the same time among the Greeks the war called the Cleomenic War was in progress, and with that war I have made the conclusion of the whole introduction and of the second book.

To enumerate each separate event in detail from all these matters is neither necessary for me nor useful for my audience.

For I do not propose to write their full history; I intend only to mention them in summary as a preparation for the events I am going to narrate.

Accordingly, by touching the main points in order, I will try to join the end of the introduction continuously to the beginning and purpose of my history.

For if the narrative proceeds in this connected way, it will seem reasonable that I touch on matters already narrated by others, and readers eager to learn will, because of such an arrangement, find their approach to what follows easy and intelligible.

I shall, however, try to discuss with a little more care the first war that arose between Rome and Carthage over Sicily.

For it would not be easy to find a war longer than this one, or one involving fuller preparations, more continuous action, more numerous struggles, or greater reversals on both sides.

Moreover, at that period both states still had their institutions in uncorrupted vigor, their fortunes still moderate, and their powers fairly equal.

Therefore anyone who wants a good view of the character and strength of the two constitutions should make the comparison on the basis of this war rather than the ones that followed.

Chapter 14 Philinus and Fabius Pictor

I was prompted to dwell on this war not only by the reasons already given, but also because the two men thought to write about it with the greatest expertise, Philinus and Fabius, have not in my view reported the truth adequately.

I do not think these men lied deliberately, judging from their lives and their principles; rather, they seem to me to have suffered something much like lovers do.

Because of partisan choice and deep attachment, Philinus thinks the Carthaginians did everything wisely, honorably, and bravely, while the Romans did the opposite; Fabius takes exactly the reverse view.

In ordinary life perhaps one would not reject this kind of feeling altogether. A good man ought to love his friends and his country, to hate his friends' enemies with them, and to love the people they love.

But whenever someone takes up the character of history, he must forget all such considerations, and must often speak well of his enemies and crown them with the highest praise when their actions require it, and often rebuke and censure his closest associates with the sharpest reproach when their errors in conduct make that necessary.

For just as a living creature, once deprived of sight, becomes useless as a whole, so if truth is taken away from history, what is left becomes an unprofitable tale.

Therefore one must not hesitate to accuse friends or praise enemies, nor shrink from blaming and at other times commending the same people, since those engaged in public affairs cannot always succeed, nor is it likely that they always fail.

So we must stand apart from the actors themselves and in our written records fit our statements and judgments to the actions themselves.

And that what I have just said is true can be seen from the following.

Chapter 15 Misrepresentations of Philinus and Fabius

The truth of what I have said can be seen from the following examples. Philinus, at the very beginning of his narrative and of his second book, states that the Carthaginians and the Syracusans were jointly besieging Messene, having sat down before it for war.

He says that when the Romans arrived by sea and entered the city, they at once marched out against the Syracusans; that after taking heavy losses they fell back into Messene; and that when they next went out against the Carthaginians, they not only suffered heavy losses but also lost a considerable number of their soldiers taken alive.

Having said this, he then claims that after the engagement Hiero so far lost his head that he not only immediately burned his palisade and tents and fled by night to Syracuse, but also abandoned every one of the forts that had been positioned to hold down Messenian territory.

In the same way, he says, the Carthaginians too, right after the battle, abandoned their palisade, split up among the various towns, and no longer dared even to contest the open country; and that, in consequence, their commanders, seeing that their men had been thoroughly demoralized, resolved not to decide the issue by battle.

The Romans, he goes on, followed them up, and not only ravaged the territory of the Carthaginians and Syracusans, but even sat down before Syracuse itself and set about besieging it.

All of this, as it seems to me, is utterly absurd, and needs no refutation whatsoever.

For the very men whom he first set up as besieging Messene and winning the engagements, he goes on to present as fleeing, withdrawing from the open country, and in the end being besieged and broken in spirit.

And those whom he first put forward as defeated and besieged, he ends by showing as pursuing the enemy, immediately gaining control of the open country, and finally besieging Syracuse.

These statements cannot possibly be reconciled with one another—how could they?—but it must be that either his opening assumptions are false, or else his account of what followed.

In fact, the latter are true: the Carthaginians and Syracusans did withdraw from the open country, and the Romans did press on the heels of the war against Syracuse, and—as he himself says—against Echetla too, which lies in the middle of the territory of the Syracusans and Carthaginians.

It remains, then, that we must admit that the premises and opening assumptions are false, and that, although the Romans were in fact victorious from the outset in the engagements around Messene, they have been reported to us by this writer as defeated.

One could find Philinus to be like this throughout the whole of his work, and Fabius likewise, as will be demonstrated in connection with the events themselves.

Now that I have said what is fitting about this digression, I will return to the events and try, by always adding the next part of the account, to bring my readers in brief compass to a true understanding of the war I have been describing.

Chapter 16 King Hiero and Rome

When news of the successes of Appius and the legions reached Rome from Sicily, the Romans appointed Manius Otacilius and Manius Valerius as consuls and dispatched their entire force, together with both generals, to Sicily.

The Romans have, all told and apart from the allies, four Roman legions, which they enroll each year; each of these consists of four thousand infantry and three hundred cavalry.

When these forces arrived, most of the cities revolted both from the Carthaginians and from the Syracusans, and went over to the Romans.

Hiero, observing the confusion and dismay of the Sicilians, and at the same time the numbers and crushing weight of the Roman legions, reasoned from all this that the prospects of the Romans were brighter than those of the Carthaginians.

Inclining therefore in his calculations toward this side, he sent messages to the consuls, proposing terms of peace and friendship.

The Romans accepted, chiefly on account of supplies.

For since the Carthaginians commanded the sea, they were anxious that they might be cut off on every side from their necessities—warned by the fact that the troops who had crossed earlier had run into severe shortage of provisions.

And so, supposing that Hiero would be of great service to them in this respect, they gladly accepted his friendship.

They made a treaty on these terms: that the king should return his prisoners to the Romans without ransom, and pay them in addition a hundred talents of silver. From then on the Romans treated the Syracusans as friends and allies.

King Hiero, having placed himself under the protection of the Romans and continually supplying them with what their pressing needs required, reigned securely over the Syracusans for the rest of his days, courting honor and reputation among the Greeks.

For of all such men he is thought to have been the most distinguished, and to have enjoyed the fruits of his own sound judgment for the longest time, both in particular affairs and in general.

Chapter 17 The Siege of Agrigentum

When the treaty was brought back to Rome, and the people had accepted and ratified the settlement with Hiero, the Romans decided no longer to send out all their forces, but only two legions.

For they reckoned that the war had been made lighter for them, now that the king had come over to their side, and at the same time they supposed that in this way their forces would be more easily kept supplied with necessities.

The Carthaginians, seeing that Hiero had become their enemy and that the Romans were getting more thoroughly entangled in Sicilian affairs, concluded that they needed a heavier force, one with which they would be able to face the enemy and to hold together their position in Sicily.

So they recruited mercenaries from the country across the sea—many Ligurians and Gauls, and still more Iberians than these—and sent them all to Sicily.

Seeing that the city of the Agrigentines was excellently suited for their preparations and was at the same time the most important city in their own province, they gathered into it their supplies and forces, deciding to use this city as their base of operations for the war.

As for the Romans, the generals who had made the treaty with Hiero had withdrawn, and their successors, appointed in their place—Lucius Postumius and Quintus Mamilius—arrived in Sicily with

the legions.

Observing the Carthaginian plan and the preparations around Agrigentum, they resolved to take the matter in hand more boldly.

So they set aside the other operations of the war, and bringing their whole army to bear directly against Agrigentum, they pressed upon it; encamping eight stades from the city, they shut the Carthaginians up inside the walls.

Since it was the height of the grain harvest, and the siege was clearly going to be a long one, the soldiers set out to gather corn more eagerly than they should have.

The Carthaginians, seeing the enemy scattered over the countryside, came out and attacked the foragers. Having routed these easily, some of them rushed to plunder the palisade, others against the supporting pickets.

But the difference in their institutions saved the Roman cause then, as it had often done before. For among the Romans the penalty is death for the man who deserts his post and flees outright from the pickets.

And so on this occasion too, although the enemy were many times their number, they stood their ground gallantly; and though they lost many of their own men, they killed still more of the enemy.

Finally, surrounding the enemy just as they were on the very point of tearing apart the palisade, they destroyed some of them, and the rest, pressing upon them and cutting them down, they drove together in flight into the city.

Chapter 18 Relief Comes from Agrigentum

After this it came about that the Carthaginians grew more cautious about making attacks, and the Romans more careful in their foraging.

Since the Carthaginians would no longer come out against them except as far as skirmishing, the Roman generals divided their force into two parts: with one they remained near the temple of Asclepius in front of the city, and with the other they encamped in the quarters of the city that incline toward Heracleia.

The intervals between the two camps, on either side of the city, they fortified. They threw up the inner trench as a protection against those sallying out of the city, and the outer one they ran around as a guard against attacks from outside and against the men and supplies that customarily slip in and make their way into besieged cities.

The spaces between the trenches and the camps they secured with guard posts, fortifying the convenient positions at intervals.

As for provisions and the rest of their supplies, all the other allies gathered them and brought them to Herbesus, and the Romans themselves, hauling and carrying continually from this town—which was not far off—kept up an abundant supply of their necessities.

So for about five months they remained in the same positions, neither side able to gain any decisive advantage over the other beyond what occurred in the skirmishes themselves.

But as the Carthaginians were being squeezed by famine, owing to the multitude of men shut up in the city—for they were no fewer than fifty thousand—Hannibal, the commander appointed over the besieged forces, now hard pressed by the situation, kept sending continual messages to Carthage, making clear their predicament and calling for help.

The authorities in Carthage loaded their ships with the soldiers and elephants they had assembled and sent them off to Sicily, to Hanno, the other general.

He gathered his supplies and forces at Heracleia, and as a first step seized by a stratagem the city of the Herbesians, depriving the enemy's camps of their markets and their supply of necessities.

As a result, the Romans found themselves at once besieging and besieged in their circumstances. For they were brought by the lack of grain and the scarcity of necessities to such a pass that they more than once deliberated about raising the siege.

And in the end they would indeed have done so, had not Hiero, applying every effort and device, kept them supplied with moderate and necessary provisions.

Chapter 19 Fall of Agrigentum

[...] of supplies. After this, the aforementioned man observed that the Romans were in a weakened condition, both from disease and from shortage of food—since a plague-like situation had set in among them—while he reckoned that his own forces were fit to give battle.

He therefore took the elephants, about fifty in number, together with the whole of the rest of his army, and advanced in haste out of Heracleia. He had given orders to the Numidian cavalry to ride ahead, and, on drawing near to the enemy's stockade, to harass them and try to lure out their cavalry, and then, once the enemy gave chase, to fall back again until they linked up with him.

The Numidians carried out their instructions and engaged one of the two camps, whereupon the Roman cavalry immediately poured out and pressed the Numidians hard with reckless boldness.

The Libyans, in keeping with their orders, gave ground until they joined Hanno's men. Then, wheeling about, they enveloped their pursuers and fell upon them, killed many of them, and chased the rest right up to their stockade.

After this had taken place, Hanno's force encamped facing the Romans, having seized the hill called Torus, at a distance of about ten stades from the enemy.

For two months they remained in these positions, accomplishing nothing decisive beyond daily skirmishing.

But since Hannibal kept signalling with fire-beacons and sending messengers continually out of the city to Hanno, making clear that the populace could not endure the famine and that many men were even deserting to the enemy because of the want of food, the Carthaginian general resolved to risk a battle—and the Romans were no less inclined to it, for the reasons already given.

And so both sides led out their forces into the ground between the camps and engaged one another.

The battle went on for a long time, but in the end the Romans routed the Carthaginian mercenaries who had borne the brunt of the fighting.

When these men fell back upon the elephants and the other ranks stationed behind them, the whole Phoenician army was thrown into confusion.

Once a general rout had set in, most of them were destroyed, though some withdrew to Heracleia; and the Romans took possession of most of the elephants and of all the baggage.

When night came on, the Romans, partly from joy at their successes and partly from exhaustion, kept their watches rather carelessly. Hannibal, having given up the situation as hopeless and judging that he had a favorable opportunity for escape for the reasons already mentioned, set out from the city around midnight with his foreign troops.

Having filled in the trenches with baskets stuffed full of chaff, he led his force away in safety, undetected by the enemy.

When day came, the Romans realized what had happened. They harried the rear guard of Hannibal's column briefly, and after that they all rushed toward the gates.

With no one standing in their way, they burst in and plundered the city, taking control of many captives and of plunder of every kind in great quantity.

Chapter 20 The Romans Build Ships

When the report of what had happened at Agrigentum reached the Roman Senate, they were overjoyed and elated in their thinking, and no longer kept to their original calculations, nor were they content with having saved the Mamertines, nor with the gains that had come from the war itself.

Instead, conceiving the hope that it was altogether possible to drive the Carthaginians out of the island —and that, were this done, their own affairs would make great progress—they applied themselves to these calculations and to the schemes bearing on this objective.

As for their land forces, they saw that matters were proceeding for them according to plan; for after those who had besieged Agrigentum, the generals appointed in their place, Lucius Valerius and Titus

Otacilius, seemed to be handling affairs in Sicily as well as circumstances allowed.

But since the Carthaginians held command of the sea without a fight, the war remained evenly balanced for the Romans; for in the period that followed, although they now held Agrigentum, many of the inland cities went over to the Romans out of fear of their land forces, while still more of the coastal cities fell away from them, terrified of the Carthaginian fleet.

Seeing, therefore, that the war was increasingly tipping now to one side and now to the other for the reasons stated, and moreover that Italy was repeatedly ravaged by the naval force while Libya remained entirely unharmed, the Romans set their hearts on taking to the sea against the Carthaginians as well.

This is indeed among the chief reasons that prompted me to give a fuller account of the war mentioned above, so that this beginning too should not be unknown—how, when, and for what reasons the Romans first went to sea.

Seeing that the war was dragging on for them, it was then that they first set about building ships—a hundred quinqueremes and twenty triremes.

But since the shipwrights were utterly inexperienced in the construction of quinqueremes—because no one in Italy at that time used such vessels—this part of the undertaking gave them great difficulty.

From this, more than anything, one may grasp the greatness of spirit and the daring of the Roman temper.

For not only did they lack adequate resources, but they had no resources at all and had never given a thought to the sea; yet, taking it into their heads then for the first time, they set to work so boldly that, before they had even made trial of the venture, they at once undertook to fight the Carthaginians at sea —men who from their forefathers held undisputed mastery of the sea.

As evidence for the truth of what I am now saying and for the extraordinary character of their daring, one might cite this: when they first undertook to ferry their forces across to Messene, they not only had no decked warship but no long ship at all, not a single galley.

Rather, they borrowed fifty-oared vessels and triremes from the Tarentines and Locrians, and also from the people of Elea and the Neapolitans, and on these they boldly carried their men across.

On that occasion, when the Carthaginians put out against them in the strait, one of their decked ships, in its eagerness, pressed too far forward and ran aground, so that it fell into the hands of the Romans; using this ship as a model, they then built their entire fleet on that pattern.

Chapter 21 Gn. Cornelius Scipio Asina Surrenders

So that, had this not happened, it is plain that through their inexperience they would in the end have been prevented from carrying out their plan. Nevertheless, those whose task was the shipbuilding went

on with the construction of the vessels, while others gathered the crews and trained them to row on land in the following way: they seated the men on rowing benches on dry ground, in the same arrangement as the seats aboard the actual ships, and, stationing the boatswain in their midst, accustomed them all to lean back together as they drew their hands toward themselves, and to swing forward again as they thrust their hands out, and to begin and end these movements at the boatswain's commands. Once these preparations had been made, as soon as the ships were finished they launched them, and after practicing for a short while in real conditions at sea, they sailed along the coast of Italy in accordance with the consul's order.

For Gnaeus Cornelius, who had been put in charge of the Roman naval force, a few days earlier had instructed the ship captains that, as soon as they had fitted out the fleet, they should sail toward the strait; he himself had put to sea with seventeen ships and sailed ahead to Messene, eager to make ready for the fleet the things urgently needed.

While he was there, a proposal came to him concerning the city of the Liparaeans. Embracing the prospect more readily than he should have, he sailed with the aforementioned ships and anchored off the city.

But the Carthaginian general Hannibal, hearing in Panormus what had happened, sent off Boödes, a member of the senate, giving him twenty ships.

Sailing up by night, Boödes blockaded Gnaeus and his men in the harbor. When day came, the crews fled to land, while Gnaeus, panic-stricken and at a loss for what to do, in the end surrendered himself to the enemy.

The Carthaginians, having the enemy's ships and commander in their hands, set off at once to rejoin Hannibal.

Not many days afterward, though the misfortune that had befallen Gnaeus was so vivid and recent, Hannibal himself came within a hair of falling plainly into a similar blunder.

For on hearing that the Roman fleet making its way along the coast of Italy was close at hand, and wishing to get a clear view of the enemy's numbers and their whole formation, he took fifty ships and sailed out.

As he was rounding the headland of Italy he ran into the enemy, who were proceeding on their voyage in good order and formation; he lost most of his ships, and with those that were left escaped against all hope and expectation.

Chapter 22 The Victory of Mylae

After this the Romans drew near to the coasts of Sicily, and when they learned of the disaster that had befallen Gnaeus, they immediately sent word to Gaius Duilius, the commander of the land forces, and waited for him to arrive.

At the same time, hearing that the enemy's fleet was not far off, they set about preparing for a naval battle.

But since their ships were poorly built and hard to maneuver, someone proposed to them, as an aid for the fight, the devices that were afterward called "ravens" (corvi). Their construction was as follows.

A round post stood on the prow, twenty-four feet high and three palms (about nine inches) in diameter.

At its top this post had a pulley, and around it was fitted a gangway built of cross-planks nailed together, four feet wide and thirty-six feet long.

The opening in the planking was oblong, and the gangway fitted around the post at a point twelve feet along from its near end. Down each of its long sides ran a railing knee-high.

At the far end of the gangway was fastened an iron spike shaped like a pestle, sharpened to a point and fitted with a ring at its top, so that the whole thing looked very much like the machines used for grinding grain.

To this ring a rope was attached. When the ships clashed, the men would hoist up the "ravens" by means of the pulley on the post and drop them onto the deck of the enemy ship—sometimes over the prow, and sometimes, when blows came from the side, swinging the device around to meet them.

Once the "ravens" had bitten into the planks of the decks and lashed the ships together, then, if the vessels lay alongside one another, the men leaped aboard from every quarter; but if they were prow to prow, they made their assault across the "raven" itself, advancing two abreast.

The leading pair shielded their front by holding their shields before them, while those who followed protected the flanks by resting the rims of their shields on the railing.

Chapter 23 Operations in Sicily

Having made use of such a preparation, they watched for the right moment to fight at sea. As for Gaius Duilius, as soon as he learned of the misfortune that had overtaken the commander of the naval forces, he handed over the land legions to the military tribunes and crossed over himself to join the fleet.

Learning that the enemy was ravaging the territory of Mylae, he sailed against them with his whole fleet.

When the Carthaginians caught sight of him, they put to sea with joy and eagerness, with a hundred and thirty ships, holding the Romans' inexperience in contempt. They all sailed straight at the enemy, prow first, not even thinking the engagement worth drawing up in any order, but as though heading for plunder lying ready for the taking.

Their commander was Hannibal—the same man who had slipped his forces out of the city of Agrigentum by night—sailing in the seven-banked galley that had once belonged to King Pyrrhus.

As they drew near and saw the "ravens" raised aloft on each of the prows, the Carthaginians were for a while at a loss, baffled by the strange construction of the engines. Yet, in utter contempt for their opponents, those sailing in the front rank charged in boldly.

But each time the ships closed and were locked together by the engines, the men crossed at once over the "raven" itself and grappled with the enemy on the decks. Some of the Carthaginians were cut down, while others surrendered, dismayed at what was happening—for the battle had become very much like a fight on land.

So they lost the first thirty ships engaged, crews and all, and with them the commander's ship was captured too; though Hannibal himself, beyond all hope and at great risk, escaped in the ship's boat.

The rest of the Carthaginian force came on as if to charge, but as they drew near and saw what had happened to the ships sailing ahead, they sheered off and dodged the descent of the engines.

Trusting in their speed, they hoped to make their attacks safely by rowing around the enemy, some on the flank and some at the stern.

But the engines swung round in every direction to meet them and dropped down so unfailingly that any ship that came near was bound to be grappled. In the end the Carthaginians gave way and fled, terrified by the novelty of what was happening, having lost fifty ships.

Chapter 24 Further Operations in Sicily

The Romans, having against all expectation made good their hopes at sea, were doubly emboldened in their drive to press the war.

For the moment, then, they put in at Sicily, raised the siege of Segesta, whose people were by now in the last extremity, and on their march back from Segesta took the town of Macella by storm.

After the naval battle, Hamilcar, the Carthaginian commander in charge of the land forces, who was stationed around Panormus, learned that in the Roman camp the allies were quarreling with the Romans over the place of honor in the fighting.

Discovering that these allies were encamped by themselves between Paropus and the Thermae of Himera, he fell upon them suddenly with his whole force while they were striking camp and killed nearly four thousand of them.

After this action Hannibal took the ships that had survived and sailed off to Carthage, and not long afterward crossed from there to Sardinia, having gathered more ships and some of the renowned naval captains.

But not long after, he was hemmed in by the Romans in a certain harbor in Sardinia and lost many of his ships; whereupon he was at once seized by the surviving Carthaginians and crucified.

For the Romans, as soon as they had taken to the sea, set about seizing control of Sardinia as well.

During the following year the Roman armies in Sicily accomplished nothing worth mentioning.

But the next year, after receiving their newly appointed magistrates, Aulus Atilius and Gaius Sulpicius, they set out against Panormus, because the Carthaginian forces were wintering there.

The commanders advanced close to the city with their whole army and drew up for battle. But when the enemy would not come out to meet them, they marched off again, this time against the town of Hippana.

This they took by storm at the first assault, and they also captured Myttistratum, which had withstood the siege for a long time because of the strength of its position.

The city of Camarina, which had revolted from them a little earlier, they now besieged with siege-works, threw down its walls, and occupied. In the same way they took Henna too, and several other small Carthaginian towns.

After these operations they set about besieging the people of Lipara.

Chapter 25 Skirmish off Tyndaris

The next year Gaius Atilius, the Roman commander, lay at anchor off Tyndaris, and when he saw the Carthaginian fleet sailing past in disorder, he ordered his own crews to follow the leading ships and set out ahead of the rest himself with ten ships sailing in company with him.

The Carthaginians, seeing that some of the enemy were still embarking, others just putting out, and the foremost far ahead of the rest, turned and went to meet them.

Surrounding them, they destroyed the rest and very nearly captured the commander's ship, crew and all; but this ship, well manned and fast, escaped the danger against all expectation.

Meanwhile the rest of the Roman ships came sailing up and gradually gathered together. Forming a line abreast, they engaged the enemy, took ten ships with their crews, and sank eight. The remaining Carthaginian ships withdrew to the islands called the Liparae.

As a result of this battle, both sides reckoned that they had fought on equal terms, and so they set about more wholeheartedly building up naval forces and contesting control of the sea.

The land forces in this period did nothing worth recording, but frittered away the time on small, chance engagements.

So, having made the preparations I have described, the Romans put to sea for the coming summer with three hundred and thirty decked warships and put in at Messana.

Setting out from there, they sailed with Sicily on their right, and after rounding Cape Pachynus they crossed over to Ecnomus, because their land army too was in that very district.

The Carthaginians, sailing up with three hundred and fifty decked ships, put in at Lilybaeum, and from there dropped anchor at Heraclea Minoa.

Chapter 26 Preparations for Battle

Now the Romans' aim was to sail across to Libya and shift the war there, so that the danger for the Carthaginians might concern not Sicily but themselves and their own land.

The Carthaginians took exactly the opposite view: realizing that Libya was easy to invade, and that its whole population would be easily overcome once an enemy had landed, they were unwilling to allow it, but were eager instead to risk everything and fight at sea.

Since the one side was bent on preventing the crossing and the other on forcing it, it was clear that the coming struggle would arise from the rivalry of both.

So the Romans made their preparations to suit both purposes—both for action at sea and for landing in enemy territory.

Accordingly they picked the best men from the land legions and divided the whole force they intended to take aboard into four parts.

Each part had two names: the first was called the "First Legion" and the "First Squadron," and so on in turn for the rest. The fourth had taken on yet a third name besides: they were called "Triarii," following the usage of the land legions.

The total of this whole naval force came to about a hundred and forty thousand men, reckoning each ship as carrying three hundred rowers and a hundred and twenty marines.

The Carthaginians, for their part, made their preparations mostly, indeed almost entirely, with a view to the battle at sea; their numbers, reckoned by the count of their ships, were over a hundred and fifty thousand.

At these figures anyone—not only one who was present and saw it with his own eyes, but even one who merely heard of it—might well be struck with awe at the scale of the contest and at the grandeur and might of both states, judging from the multitude of their men and ships.

The Romans, reasoning that the voyage would be across open sea and that the enemy were fast sailers, tried in every way to make their formation secure and hard to attack.

So they placed first, side by side in the front, the two six-banked galleys on which the commanders Marcus Atilius and Lucius Manlius were sailing.

Behind each of these they stationed ships in single file, one ship to a line—behind the one the first squadron, behind the other the second—setting each successive ship of each squadron at a greater interval from the next. The vessels lay one behind another with their prows angled outward.

Once they had arranged the first and second squadrons simply in a wedge formation, they placed against these, in a single line abreast, the third legion; and with these set in place, the whole formation took the shape of a triangle.

Behind these they stationed the horse-transports, attaching them by tow-lines to the ships of the third squadron.

Behind the transports they placed the fourth squadron, those called the Triarii, extended in a single line so as to overlap at both ends the ships in front of them.

When all had been fitted together in the manner described, the whole formation took the shape of a wedge: the part toward the apex was hollow, the part at the base solid, and the whole was effective and serviceable, and at the same time hard to break apart.

Chapter 27 The Carthaginian Center Feigns Flight

At the same time the Carthaginian commanders briefly addressed their men, pointing out to them that if they won the sea-battle they would carry on the war over Sicily, but if they were beaten they would be fighting for their own homeland and all that they held dear; and so they ordered them to board the ships.

Since all carried out the order eagerly—because what had been said let them see clearly what lay ahead—they put to sea with confidence and in a manner fit to strike terror.

When the commanders observed the enemy's formation, they arranged their own to match it: three of their four divisions they drew up in a single line, extending the right wing toward the open sea so as to envelop the enemy, and setting all their ships prow-on to the enemy. The fourth division they made the left wing of the whole line, bending it back at an angle toward the shore.

The Carthaginian right wing was led by Hanno—the man defeated in the battle at Agrigentum—with ships for charging and the fastest quinqueremes for the outflanking movement.

The left was under the charge of Hamilcar, who had fought the sea-battle off Tyndaris; and he, fighting now in the center of the line, employed in the engagement the following stratagem.

When the Romans saw the Carthaginians drawn out in a thin line and launched their charge against the center, the battle began in this way.

The Carthaginian center, by prearranged order, quickly turned to flight so as to break up the Roman formation. These men retreated at full speed, while the Romans followed eagerly behind.

So the first and second squadrons pressed hard upon the fleeing ships, while the third and fourth divisions fell behind—the one because it was towing the horse-transports, and the Triarii because they stayed with them and kept guard over them.

But when the Carthaginians judged that they had drawn the first and second squadrons far enough from the rest, a signal was raised from Hamilcar's ship, and all at once they swung about and engaged their pursuers.

A fierce struggle followed. In speed, the Carthaginians had much the better of it, rowing around the enemy, closing in easily and pulling back swiftly; but in close, forceful fighting—grappling with the "ravens" any ship that once came near, and fighting under the eyes of both their commanders, who shared in the action in full view of their men—the Romans had hopes no less bright than the Carthaginians.

Such, then, was the course of the fighting in this quarter.

Chapter 28 The Battle Splits into Three Fights

Such was the state of affairs [in the center]. At the same time Hanno, commanding the right wing, which had held off at a distance during the first encounter, crossed the open sea and charged the ships of the Triarii, causing them great trouble and difficulty.

Meanwhile the Carthaginians stationed near the shore re-formed from their original position into a line abreast, brought their ships prow-on, and charged the vessels towing the horse-transports. These cast off their tow-lines, grappled with the enemy, and fought it out.

So the whole engagement fell into three parts, and three separate sea-battles were going on at a wide distance from one another; and since the forces on each side were evenly matched, in keeping with the original disposition, the fighting in each case was hard fought.

Nonetheless the outcome in each battle followed the natural course—as is to be expected when all the contending forces are evenly balanced.

For those who engaged first were the first to be decided: in the end Hamilcar's squadron was overpowered and took to flight.

So while Lucius was busy securing the captured ships, Marcus, seeing the struggle in which the Triarii and the horse-transports were caught up, hurried to their aid with the undamaged ships of the second squadron.

When he had reached and closed with Hanno's division, the Triarii quickly took heart, and although by now they were faring badly, they rallied again to the fight.

The Carthaginians, attacked in front by some and assailed in the rear by others, found themselves in difficulty and—unexpectedly surrounded by the relieving force—gave way and withdrew toward the open sea.

At this same moment Lucius, who was now sailing back and saw the third squadron pinned against the shore by the Carthaginian left wing, and Marcus, who had left the horse-transports and Triarii safe, both hurried to rescue their endangered comrades.

For by now what was happening looked very much like a siege; and these men would plainly all have perished had not the Carthaginians, in fear of the "ravens," merely fenced them in and held them penned against the shore, wary of charging because of the grappling and so keeping their distance.

But the commanders came up swiftly, surrounded the Carthaginians, and captured fifty enemy ships with their crews, while a few escaped by slipping away along the shore.

Such was the course of the fighting in its separate parts; but the outcome of the whole sea-battle went to the Romans.

Of their ships, twenty-four were destroyed, and of the Carthaginians over thirty. Not a single Roman ship fell into enemy hands with its crew, but sixty-four of the Carthaginian ships did.

Chapter 29 The Romans Land in Africa

After this the Romans again took on fresh supplies, fitted out the captured ships, and gave the crews the care their success deserved. Then they put to sea and made their voyage toward Libya.

Their leading ships came to land below the headland called Hermaeum, which lies at the mouth of the whole gulf by Carthage and projects out into the open sea toward Sicily. There they waited for the ships sailing up behind them, and when they had gathered the whole fleet together they sailed along the coast until they reached the city called Aspis.

There they landed, hauled the ships ashore, and enclosed them with a trench and palisade. Since the people holding the city would not submit willingly, they began to besiege it.

The Carthaginians who had escaped the danger of the sea battle sailed back as well. Convinced that the enemy, elated by the advantage they had won, would immediately sail against Carthage itself, they stationed their land and naval forces at the points lying in front of the city.

But when they learned that the Romans had disembarked safely and were besieging Aspis, they gave up trying to watch for an attack by sea and instead concentrated their forces and busied themselves with guarding both the city and the countryside.

The Romans, after taking Aspis and leaving a garrison to hold the city and its district, also sent envoys to Rome to report what had happened and to ask what they should do next and how they should

handle the situation. After this they broke camp with all their forces in eager haste and set out to ravage the country.

Since no one opposed them, they destroyed many country houses built with exceptional luxury, seized a great quantity of livestock, and carried off to the ships more than twenty thousand people.

Meanwhile messengers arrived from Rome explaining that one of the commanders must remain with an adequate force, while the other was to bring the fleet back to Rome.

So Marcus remained behind with forty ships, fifteen thousand infantry, and five hundred cavalry.

Lucius took the crews and the mass of prisoners aboard, sailed safely along the coast of Sicily, and arrived at Rome.

Chapter 30 Regulus in Africa

The Carthaginians, seeing that the enemy intended to remain in the country for a considerable time, first chose two generals from among themselves, Hasdrubal son of Hanno and Bostar, and then sent to Hamilcar at Heraclea, summoning him to come with all speed.

He took with him five hundred cavalry and five thousand infantry and came to Carthage. Having been appointed a third general, he consulted with Hasdrubal and the others about how they should deal with the present situation.

They decided to come to the aid of the countryside and not to stand by while it was plundered with impunity.

A few days later Marcus advanced, seizing by assault and looting the strongholds that were unwalled, and laying siege to those that were fortified.

When he came to a notable city called Adys, he encamped around it and energetically set about siege works and an assault.

The Carthaginians, eager to relieve the city and judging that they must contest control of the open country, led out their army.

They occupied a hill that stood above the enemy, but it was unsuitable for their own forces, and there they pitched camp.

Though they placed their greatest hopes in their cavalry and elephants, they abandoned the flat ground and shut themselves up in steep and difficult terrain. In doing so, they were about to teach the enemy exactly what ought to be done against them. And that is exactly what happened.

For the Roman commanders, recognizing with practical good sense that the most effective and most formidable part of the enemy's strength had been rendered useless by the ground, did not wait for them to come down into the plain and draw up for battle.

Instead, taking advantage of the opportunity before them, they advanced at daybreak from both sides against the hill.

The Carthaginian cavalry and elephants were therefore completely useless. The mercenaries, however, came out bravely and with great spirit, and at first forced one Roman division to give ground and flee.

But when they pushed too far forward and were surrounded by the troops ascending from the other side, they were routed, and after that the whole army was immediately driven out of the camp.

The elephants and cavalry, as soon as they reached level ground, made their withdrawal safely.

The Romans pursued the infantry only a short distance, then plundered the camp, and after that moved through the whole countryside and sacked the cities without resistance.

They also gained possession of the city called Tunes. Since it was well suited for the operations before them and was conveniently placed both with regard to Carthage itself and the neighboring countryside, they encamped there.

Chapter 31 Distress at Carthage

The Carthaginians, after suffering a setback at sea not long before and now another on land—not because of any cowardice among the rank and file, but because of the incompetence of their leaders—had fallen into difficulties of every kind.

At the same time the nation of the Numidians was attacking them as well, and was doing the country damage no less than the Romans, indeed even greater damage.

As a result, because the people from the countryside fled in fear and crowded into the city, there was complete discouragement and famine, partly because of the numbers gathered there and partly because they expected a siege.

Marcus, seeing that the Carthaginians had failed both by land and by sea and thinking that he would very soon take the city, but anxious that the commander coming from Rome might arrive first and take the credit for the whole achievement, invited the Carthaginians to negotiate a settlement.

They gladly listened and sent out their leading men. But when they met with him, they were so far from inclining toward any of his proposals that they could hardly bear even to listen to the weight of his demands.

For Marcus, as though he already had complete control of everything, thought that whatever concessions he granted ought to be accepted by them as a favor and an act of generosity.

But the Carthaginians saw that even if they became his captives, nothing harsher could follow than the commands he was now imposing. So they not only came back rejecting the proposals, but were also deeply offended by Marcus's severity.

When the Carthaginian council heard what the Roman general was demanding, although it had almost given up hope of safety, it nevertheless took so manly and noble a stand that it chose to endure anything and to try every action and every opportunity rather than submit to anything dishonorable or unworthy of its past deeds.

Chapter 32 Xanthippus of Sparta

About this time one of the recruiting officers previously sent to Greece sailed into Carthage, bringing a large number of soldiers, among them a certain Xanthippus, a Spartan, a man trained in the Spartan discipline and possessed of solid experience in warfare.

When he heard about the defeat, how it had happened, and in what way, and when he considered the rest of the Carthaginian resources as well as the number of their cavalry and elephants, he quickly concluded and told his friends that the Carthaginians were being beaten not by the Romans but by themselves, through the inexperience of their commanders.

Because the situation was critical, what Xanthippus said was soon spread among the crowd and among the generals, and the men in authority decided to summon him and test what he could do.

When he appeared before them, he explained to the magistrates why they had now met with defeat, and showed that if they followed his advice and made use of flat ground in marching, encamping, and drawing up for battle, they would easily be able both to secure their own safety and to defeat the enemy.

The generals accepted what he said, were persuaded by him, and immediately entrusted the forces to him.

Even before this, there had already been among the masses an encouraging murmur and hopeful talk based on what Xanthippus was saying.

But once he led the army out before the city, drew it up in proper order, began to maneuver some units in formation, and gave commands according to military rules, he showed such a contrast to the incompetence of the previous generals that the multitude responded with loud cheers and were eager to engage the enemy at once, convinced that so long as Xanthippus led them, they would suffer nothing disastrous.

When the generals saw that the spirits of the masses had been restored so unexpectedly, they addressed them in a way suited to the moment, and after a few days set out with the army.

Their force consisted of twelve thousand infantry, four thousand cavalry, and nearly a hundred elephants.

Chapter 33 The Defeat of Regulus

The Romans, seeing that the Carthaginians were now making their marches through level country and placing their camps on flat ground, were puzzled and disturbed by this new development, but all the same they were eager to come to close quarters with the enemy.

After advancing, they spent the first day encamped about ten stades from their opponents.

On the next day the Carthaginian leaders were considering what should be done and how they ought to act in the present circumstances.

But the rank and file, full of eagerness for battle, gathered in groups and shouted Xanthippus's name one by one, convinced that he ought to lead them out at once.

The generals, seeing the army's rush of enthusiasm and eagerness, and with Xanthippus also insisting that they must not let the moment pass, ordered the troops to prepare themselves and gave Xanthippus authority to manage affairs as he thought best.

Once he had this power, he brought out the elephants and stationed them in a single line at the front before the whole army. Behind them, at a suitable distance, he placed the Carthaginian phalanx.

Of the mercenaries, he posted some on the right wing, while he placed the most mobile troops together with the cavalry in front of each wing.

When the Romans saw the enemy drawing up for battle, they advanced out readily to meet them.

Alarmed and anticipating the charge of the elephants, they put the light-armed troops in front and behind them stationed the maniples in many successive lines, while they divided the cavalry between the two wings.

By making their whole formation narrower than before but deeper, they had taken reasonable measures against the elephants, but against the cavalry—who greatly outnumbered their own—they had completely misjudged the situation.

When both sides had arranged, both generally and in detail, each part in the positions appropriate to it, they stood in order watching for the moment to attack one another.

Chapter 34 Roman Defeat

As soon as Xanthippus gave the order to the men on the elephants to advance and break up the enemy's line, and to the cavalry on each wing to wheel around and attack the enemy, then the Roman army too, according to their custom, clashed their weapons together, raised their battle cry, and charged the enemy.

The Roman cavalry on both wings quickly fled, because the Carthaginian cavalry were so much more numerous.

Of the infantry, those posted on the left wing, partly avoiding the elephants' charge and partly despising the mercenaries, attacked the Carthaginian right. After routing them, they pressed on and pursued them as far as the camp rampart.

But among those stationed opposite the elephants, the front ranks, once engaged, were forced back and trampled underfoot by the sheer power of the animals, and perished in heaps where they stood. Still, because of the depth of the formation behind them, the main body remained unbroken for some time.

But when the men in the rear ranks found themselves surrounded on every side by cavalry and were forced to turn and fight them, while those who had forced their way through the elephants to the front, with the beasts now behind them, ran into the Carthaginian phalanx still intact and in good order, they were cut down.

Then, hard pressed from every side, most of the Romans were trampled to death by the overwhelming force of the animals, while the rest were shot down by the mass of cavalry on the very ground of the battle line. Only a very few broke away and tried to flee.

But since the routes of retreat lay over open plain, some of these too were killed by the elephants and cavalry, and perhaps five hundred who fled with the general Marcus were soon overtaken and captured alive together with him.

On the Carthaginian side about eight hundred mercenaries fell, namely those posted opposite the Roman left.

Of the Romans, about two thousand survived—those who, by pursuing the troops mentioned above, had stayed outside the main danger. All the rest perished except the general Marcus and those who fled with him.

The Roman units that escaped made their way, against all expectation, back to Aspis.

The Carthaginians stripped the dead, took the general along with the prisoners, and returned to the city overjoyed at the turn events had taken.

Chapter 35 Lessons from the Event

At this point a thoughtful observer could rightly note many things that contribute to the correction of human life.

For the need not to trust in Fortune—especially in times of success—was then made perfectly clear to all by what happened to Marcus.

The man who a little earlier had shown no pity or indulgence to the fallen was himself at once led away to beg those very things for his own safety.

And indeed the old saying of Euripides, that one wise plan overcomes many hands, was then confirmed by the facts themselves.

For one man and one mind brought down forces that seemed unconquerable and effective in action, and led back to a better state a government that appeared plainly ruined beyond recovery, along with the utterly disheartened spirits of its armies.

I have mentioned these things for the sake of improving those who read these memoirs.

For there are two ways by which all people may change for the better: through their own misfortunes and through those of others. The lesson drawn from one's own experience is more vivid, but the lesson drawn from other people's is safer.

Therefore one should never deliberately choose the first, since it brings correction only through great suffering and danger, but one should always seek the second, since through it one may perceive the better course without harm.

From this one ought to conclude that the experience gained from practical history is the finest education for real life.

For history alone, without causing us injury, produces true judges of what is better in every situation and circumstance. Let this be enough on these matters.

Chapter 36 Xanthippus Leaves Carthage

The Carthaginians, now that everything had turned out according to their wishes, gave free rein to their overflowing joy, both in thanksgiving offered to the god and in warm congratulations exchanged among themselves.

But Xanthippus, after bringing about so great an advance and so decisive a turn in the affairs of Carthage, sailed away home again not long afterward, having made his decision wisely and shrewdly.

For brilliant and extraordinary achievements breed heavy jealousy and sharp slander; and while native citizens, supported by their kinsmen and their many friends, may be able to fend these off for a long time, foreigners are quickly overcome by one or the other of them and put in danger.

There is also another account given of Xanthippus's departure, which I will try to explain when I come to a more fitting occasion than the present.

The Romans, when news reached them—against all their expectations—of what had happened in Libya, at once set about refitting their fleet and rescuing the men who had survived there.

The Carthaginians, meanwhile, after these events encamped and laid siege to Aspis, eager to get into their hands the men who had escaped from the battle.

But being wholly unable to take the place, owing to the bravery and daring of these men, they finally abandoned the siege.

When word reached them that the Romans were fitting out their fleet and intended once more to make the voyage against Libya, they set to work, repairing some vessels and building others from the keel up.

Quickly manning two hundred ships, they put to sea and kept watch for the enemy's approach.

The Romans, at the beginning of summer, launched three hundred and fifty vessels and, placing the consuls Marcus Aemilius and Servius Fulvius in command, sent them out. Putting to sea, they sailed along Sicily as if heading for Libya.

Falling in with the Carthaginian fleet off Hermaeum, they routed it easily at the first charge and captured a hundred and fourteen ships together with their crews.

Chapter 37 The Roman Fleet Wrecked

Then, taking aboard the young men who had held out in Libya, from Aspis they sailed back once more toward Sicily. They crossed the strait safely, but on reaching the territory of Camarina they were caught in so great a storm and so great a disaster that one could not even describe it adequately, so far did the catastrophe surpass all bounds.

For out of their three hundred and sixty-four ships, only eighty survived; of the rest, some went down beneath the waves, while others, dashed by the surf against the reefs and headlands, were broken to pieces, filling the shore with corpses and wreckage.

No greater catastrophe at sea, occurring all at once, is even recorded in history. The blame for it must be laid not so much on Fortune as on the commanders.

For although the pilots had repeatedly protested against sailing along the outer coast of Sicily, the side facing the Libyan sea, because it was rough and offered no safe anchorage, and because, too, one spell of stormy weather had not yet ended while another was coming on—for they were making the voyage between the rising of Orion and that of the Dog Star—the commanders heeded none of these warnings and sailed out into the open sea, eager to overawe some of the cities along the coast by the impression of their recent success and so to win them over.

But by chasing small hopes they met with great misfortunes, and only then recognized their own folly.

In general, the Romans rely on force in everything; they think that once they have set themselves a goal they must carry it through at all costs, and that nothing they have once resolved upon can be impossible. Because of this drive they succeed in many things, but in some they fail conspicuously—above all at sea.

On land, where their undertakings are directed against men and the works of men, they usually succeed, because they apply their force against powers comparable to their own, and only rarely fail.

But when they pit themselves against the sea and the surrounding elements and try to fight them by sheer force, they meet with great disasters.

This is what befell them then, and has befallen them many times since, and will continue to befall them, until they correct this rashness and this reliance on force, by which they suppose that every season must be open to them for sailing as well as for marching.

Chapter 38 The Romans Build More Ships

The Carthaginians, learning of the destruction that had overtaken the Roman fleet, and reckoning that they were a match for the enemy on land because of their earlier success, and at sea because of the disaster the Romans had just suffered, turned with greater eagerness to their naval and land preparations.

They immediately dispatched Hasdrubal to Sicily, giving him both the troops already on hand and those that had come from Heracleia, and along with them a hundred and forty elephants.

After sending him off, they fitted out two hundred ships and made all the other preparations for the voyage.

Hasdrubal, having crossed safely to Lilybaeum, set about training his elephants and drilling his forces, and clearly meant to contest control of the open country.

The Romans, when they heard in detail from those who had been brought back from the shipwreck what had happened, took the disaster hard; but unwilling to give in once and for all, they resolved once again to build two hundred and twenty vessels from the keel up.

These were completed within three months—a thing hard even to believe—and the newly appointed magistrates, Aulus Atilius and Gnaeus Cornelius, at once fitted out the fleet and put to sea.

Sailing through the strait, they took on at Messene the ships that had been saved from the shipwreck, and putting in at Panormus in Sicily with three hundred ships—Panormus being the most important city of the Carthaginian province—they set about besieging it.

Throwing up siege-works at two points and making the other preparations, they brought up their engines.

When the tower by the sea easily fell and the soldiers forced their way in there, what is called the New Town was taken by storm; and the so-called Old Town, endangered by this, was quickly surrendered by its inhabitants.

Chapter 39 The Carthaginians Prosperous

Having made themselves masters of the place, they sailed back to Rome, leaving a garrison in the city. After this, when summer came on, the newly appointed magistrates Gnaeus Servilius and Gaius Sempronius put to sea with the whole fleet, crossed to Sicily, and set out from there for Libya.

Coasting along the country, they made very many landings, but accomplished nothing worth mentioning in any of them, and came to the island of the Lotus-eaters, which is called Mēninx and lies not far from the Lesser Syrtis.

There, through inexperience of the waters, they ran upon some shallows, and when the tide ebbed and their ships settled aground, they fell into utter helplessness.

Nonetheless, after a while the sea unexpectedly flowed back, and by throwing all their heavy cargo overboard they barely managed to lighten the ships.

When this happened, their departure was more like a flight. Reaching Sicily and rounding Lilybaeum, they came to anchor at Panormus.

From there, recklessly making the voyage to Rome across the open sea, they again ran into a storm so great in magnitude that they lost more than a hundred and fifty ships.

The Romans, when this had happened—though they are beyond all others determined in every undertaking—now, because of the scale and number of their misfortunes, were forced by circumstances to give up gathering yet another fleet.

Resting their remaining hopes on their land forces, they sent out the generals Lucius Caecilius and Gaius Furius, along with their legions, to Sicily, and manned only sixty ships to carry supplies to the armies.

As a result of the disasters I have described, the fortunes of the Carthaginians once more rose higher.

For they commanded the sea without fear, now that the Romans had withdrawn from it, while in their land forces they had great hopes.

And they felt this not without reason. For when the report of the battle in Libya had spread—that the elephants had broken up the Roman ranks and destroyed most of their men— the Romans were so terrified of the elephants that for the two years following the events just described, although they often drew up in battle order against the enemy in the territory of Lilybaeum and often in that of Selinus, within five or six stades of them, they never dared to begin the fight, nor to descend at all onto level ground, for fear of an elephant charge.

During these times they captured by siege only Therma and Lipara, keeping all the while to mountainous and difficult country.

And so the Romans, observing the panic and despondency in their land forces, changed their minds and resolved once more to take to the sea.

Appointing as generals Gaius Atilius and Lucius Manlius, they built fifty vessels and energetically enrolled crews and assembled a fleet.

Chapter 40 Roman Victory at Panormus

Hasdrubal, the Carthaginian commander, seeing that the Romans had lost their nerve in the recent engagements, and learning that one of the generals had gone off to Italy with half the army, while Caecilius was lingering at Panormus with the remaining part of his force, intending to guard the allies' crops just as the harvest was at its height, took his army from Lilybaeum, set out, and encamped on the borders of the territory of Panormus. But Caecilius, seeing how overconfident he had become and eager to provoke his rashness, kept his soldiers within the gates.

Emboldened by this, Hasdrubal—convinced that Caecilius did not dare to come out against him—pushed boldly forward with his whole army and marched down through the narrows into the territory of Panormus.

While he was destroying the crops right up to the city, Caecilius held to his intended plan, until he had lured him into crossing the river that lay before the city.

When the Carthaginians had brought their elephants and their force across, Caecilius then began sending out his light-armed troops to harass them, until he had compelled them to deploy their entire army.

Seeing that what he had planned was coming to pass, he stationed some of his nimble troops in front of the wall and the ditch, ordering them, if the elephants came close, to use their missiles freely, and whenever they were hard pressed, to take refuge in the ditch and then, sallying out from it again, to hurl javelins at whichever of the beasts came near.

He ordered the workmen from the marketplace to carry the missiles and lay them down outside, along the foundation of the wall.

He himself, with his standards, took up his post at the gate lying opposite the enemy's left wing, continually sending more and more men to support the skirmishers.

As the engagement there grew more general, the officers in charge of the elephants, in rivalry with Hasdrubal and wishing the success to be their own doing, all charged the men fighting in the front, easily routed them, and chased them to the ditch.

But when the beasts attacked, wounded by the archers on the wall and pelted with a vigorous, thick shower of javelins and darts by the fresh troops drawn up in front of the ditch, riddled with missiles and badly wounded, they soon fell into confusion, turned upon their own side, and went charging

through them, trampling and destroying the men and throwing their own ranks into disorder and tearing them apart.

Seeing this, Caecilius vigorously led out his force; and falling upon the enemy from the side, against their flank while they were in disorder, with troops that were fresh and in good order, he inflicted a heavy rout upon them, killing many and forcing the rest to flee headlong.

He captured ten elephants together with their Indian drivers, and the rest, whose Indians had thrown themselves off, he rounded up after the battle and got them all into his possession.

By accomplishing this, he was by common agreement held to have been the cause, for the Romans, of their land forces recovering their courage and regaining control of the open country.

Chapter 41 Siege of Lilybaeum

When news of this success reached Rome, the people were overjoyed—not so much because the enemy had been weakened by the loss of their elephants, as because their own men had regained their confidence by mastering the elephants.

For this reason they took heart again, and, in keeping with their original intention, resolved to send out their generals on campaign with a fleet and naval force, eager to bring the war to an end as far as they could.

When the supplies for the expedition had been prepared, the generals sailed for Sicily with two hundred ships. It was the fourteenth year of the war.

Coming to anchor off Lilybaeum, where the land forces had also come to meet them, they set about besieging it, reckoning that if they took this city they could easily transfer the war to Libya.

On this point, more or less, the Carthaginian leaders were of the same mind and reasoned just as the Romans did.

And so, treating everything else as secondary, they set themselves to relieve the city, to take risks, and to endure anything on its behalf, since no other base would be left to them—the Romans now controlling all the rest of Sicily except Drepana.

But so that what I say may not be unclear to those who do not know the region, I will try to bring my readers, in a few words, to an understanding of the favorable situation and position of these places.

Chapter 42 The Topography of Lilybaeum

Sicily as a whole is so situated in relation to Italy and its southern extremity much as the Peloponnese is situated in relation to the rest of Greece and its outermost points, differing in just this one respect:

that the Peloponnese is a peninsula, while Sicily is an island; for in the one case the intervening land can be crossed on foot, in the other only by sea.

The shape of Sicily is a triangle, the vertices of whose angles are formed by promontories.

Of these, the one inclining to the south and stretching out into the Sicilian Sea is called Pachynus; the one leaning toward the north bounds the western part of the strait and lies about twelve stades from Italy, and is called Pelorias; the third points toward Libya itself, conveniently situated opposite the promontories that lie out in front of Carthage, at a distance of about a thousand stades; it inclines toward the winter sunset, divides the Libyan from the Sardinian Sea, and is called Lilybaeum.

On this promontory lies a city of the same name as the place, around which the Romans were then forming their siege—exceptionally well fortified with walls, and surrounded by a deep ditch and by lagoons on the seaward side, through which the approach into the harbors requires great experience and familiarity.

The Romans, encamping against the city on both sides, and fencing off the space between their camps with a ditch, palisade, and wall, began to bring up their siege-works against the tower nearest the sea, on the side facing the Libyan main.

Continually building onto what they had already constructed and extending their works, they at last brought down six towers adjoining the one mentioned, and set about battering all the rest at once with rams.

As the siege was pressed with vigor and terrible force, with the towers laboring and crumbling day by day, while the works pushed ever farther into the city, there was deep dismay and consternation among the besieged—even though, apart from the civilian population, there were in the city as many as ten thousand mercenaries.

Yet their general Himilco left undone nothing that was possible; building counter-walls here and driving counter-mines there, he caused the enemy no small difficulty.

Moreover, every day he went out and attacked the siege-works, trying somehow to set fire to them, and on this account he fought many desperate engagements, both by day and by night, so that sometimes more men fell in such clashes than usually fall in a pitched battle.

Chapter 43 Treason in Lilybaeum

Around this same time, some of the officers who held the highest commands among the mercenaries conferred privately with one another about handing the city over to the Romans. They were convinced that the men under their command would do as they were told, so they slipped out of the city by night to the enemy camp and began negotiating the matter with the Roman general.

But Alexon the Achaean—the same man who in earlier times had saved the people of Agrigentum when the Syracusan mercenaries there were planning to break faith and betray the city—was once again the first to grasp what was afoot, and he reported it to the Carthaginian commander.

The moment the commander heard of it, he summoned the officers who had remained behind. He appealed to them earnestly, promising large gifts and rewards if they would keep faith with him and not join the plot of those who had left the city.

They eagerly accepted his proposal, and along with them he immediately sent Hannibal to the Gauls—the son of the Hannibal who had died in Sardinia—because of the familiarity he had built up with them during an earlier campaign; and to the rest of the mercenaries he sent Alexon, because of the regard and trust in which they held him.

These men called the troops together, urged them to stay loyal, and on top of that guaranteed the rewards the commander had promised to each of them. In this way they easily persuaded the men to remain at their posts.

As a result, when the officers who had slipped away afterward came openly up to the walls, wanting to make their appeal and say something about the Romans' offer, the men not only refused to pay them any attention but would not even consent to listen. Instead they pelted them with stones and javelins and drove them away from the wall.

So because of these events the Carthaginians came within a hair's breadth of losing everything, betrayed as they were by their own mercenaries.

But Alexon, who earlier through his loyalty had preserved for the people of Agrigentum not only their city and territory but also their laws and freedom, was on this occasion the man responsible for keeping the Carthaginians from total ruin.

Chapter 44 A Fruitless Sortie

The Carthaginians at home knew nothing of all this, but they could work out for themselves what a city under siege would need. So they manned fifty ships with soldiers and gave suitable orders to the officer placed in charge of the operation, Hannibal—son of Hamilcar, a trierarch and the leading friend of Adherbal. They dispatched him in all haste, instructing him not to delay but to seize the right moment and use boldness to relieve the besieged.

He put to sea with ten thousand soldiers and anchored at the islands called the Aegusae, which lie midway between Lilybaeum and Carthage, where he watched for his chance to sail. When he caught a favorable and fresh wind, he spread all his sails and ran straight before the wind right at the very mouth of the harbor, making the passage with his men fully armed and ready for battle on the decks.

The Romans, partly taken aback by his sudden appearance and partly afraid that the force of the wind might carry them along with the enemy into their opponents' harbor, gave up any attempt to block the

relief force as it sailed in. Instead they took up a position out at sea, dumbstruck at the enemy's audacity.

The whole population of the city had gathered on the walls, at once in agony over what would happen and overjoyed at this unexpected ray of hope, and they cheered on the incoming ships with clapping and shouting.

Hannibal, recklessly and with great confidence, ran in and brought his ships safely to anchor in the harbor, disembarking his soldiers without loss.

Yet all those in the city were not so much delighted at the arrival of the relief force—great as the boost was to their hopes and their strength—as they were at the fact that the Romans had not dared to stop the Carthaginians from sailing in.

Chapter 45 Running the Blockade

Himilco, the general in command of the city, saw the eagerness and high spirits of both groups—the men already in the city, because of the arrival of the relief force, and the newcomers, because they had no experience yet of the hardships besetting the place.

Wanting to make use of the enthusiasm of both groups while it was still fresh, for an attack on the siege-works with fire, he called everyone together into an assembly.

He spoke at some length on what the occasion called for and roused them to overwhelming enthusiasm, both by the scale of the rewards promised to those who distinguished themselves individually and by the favors and gifts they would all receive collectively from the Carthaginians.

When they responded as one, shouting that he should not wait but lead them out, he praised them, welcomed their eagerness, and dismissed them for the time being, telling them to rest while there was time and to obey their officers.

Not long afterward he called together their commanders, assigned each of them the positions suited to the attack, made known the watchword and the moment for the assault, and ordered the officers to be at their assigned posts with all their men at the morning watch.

They obeyed, and at first light he led out his force and attacked the works at several points at once.

But because they had foreseen what was coming, the Romans were neither idle nor unprepared; they readily brought help wherever it was needed and fought the enemy hard.

In a short time everyone was at grips with one another, and there was a fierce struggle all around the wall: those from the city numbered no fewer than twenty thousand, and those outside were more numerous still.

And the more the men fought out of formation, mingled together and each following his own impulse, the more brilliant the contest became—for out of so great a multitude, man against man and rank against rank, the rivalry among the fighters became almost a series of single combats.

Even so, the shouting and the press of bodies were at their height right at the works themselves.

For the men posted from the start by both sides for this very purpose—the one group to dislodge those at the works, the other to keep from giving them up—threw themselves into it with such rivalry and zeal, the one straining to drive the enemy off, the other refusing absolutely to yield, that in their determination they ended up dying right where they had first been stationed.

Meanwhile those mixed in among them, carrying torches, tow, and fire, fell upon the engines so boldly and from every side at once that the Romans were brought to the brink of disaster, unable to overcome the enemy's assault.

But the Carthaginian general, seeing many of his men dying in the fight while still unable to take the works—the very object of the attack—ordered his trumpeters to sound the recall.

So the Romans, after coming within an inch of losing all their siege equipment, in the end kept possession of the works and preserved them all safely.

Chapter 46 Hannibal the Rhodian

After this exploit Hannibal sailed out by night with his ships, again escaping the enemy's notice, and made for Drepana to join Adherbal, the Carthaginian commander-in-chief.

Because of the favorable location and the excellence of the harbor at Drepana, the Carthaginians always took great care to keep it well guarded.

This place happens to lie about a hundred and twenty stades from Lilybaeum.

The authorities at Carthage wanted to know how matters stood at Lilybaeum, but they could not find out, since one side was shut up inside and the other was keeping a vigilant watch. Then a man of distinction, called Hannibal the Rhodian, offered to sail into Lilybaeum, see the situation with his own eyes, and report everything in detail.

They were glad to hear his offer, but they did not believe it could be done, since the Roman fleet lay at anchor right at the mouth of the entrance channel.

He fitted out his own ship and put to sea. He crossed to one of the islands lying off Lilybaeum, and the following day, catching a favorable wind at the right moment, around the fourth hour he sailed in—in full view of all the enemy, who were stunned at his audacity.

The next day he immediately set about putting out again.

The Roman general, wanting to keep a more careful watch over the entrance channel, had during the night fitted out his ten fastest ships. He himself took up a position by the harbor and watched what would happen, and so did the whole army.

The ships, on both sides of the channel mouth, drew in as close to the shallows as they possibly could and lay there with oars poised, ready to ram and seize the ship as it tried to sail out.

But the Rhodian made his departure openly and so far outdid the enemy in both daring and speed that he not only sailed out with his ship and crew unscathed—running past the enemy vessels as though they were standing still— but after sailing a little way ahead he even brought his ship to a halt with oars poised, as if challenging the enemy.

And when none of them dared to put out against him, because of the speed of his rowing, he sailed away, having with a single ship defied the entire enemy fleet.

Chapter 47 The Rhodian is Captured

From then on he did the same thing many times over and proved of great service: he kept the Carthaginians constantly informed of urgent matters, kept up the spirits of the besieged, and dismayed the Romans by his recklessness. What contributed most to his boldness was that, from experience, he had carefully marked out the entrance by means of the shoals.

For after crossing the open sea and coming into view, he would take his bearings from the Italian side and bring the tower by the sea onto his bow in such a way that it covered all the towers of the city facing toward Libya—and this is the only way it is possible, with a following wind, to aim accurately at the mouth of the entrance channel.

Trusting in the Rhodian's daring, a good many of those who knew the waters likewise grew bold enough to do the same. As a result, the Romans, frustrated by what was happening, set about trying to dam up the mouth of the harbor.

For the most part their attempt accomplished nothing, because of the depth of the sea and because none of the material they dumped in would settle or hold together at all; instead, the swell and the force of the current swept whatever was thrown in aside and scattered it as soon as it began to sink.

But at one spot where there were shoals a mole did, with great effort, take shape. On it a quadrireme that was running out by night ran aground and fell into the enemy's hands—a ship of exceptionally fine construction.

The Romans seized it, fitted it out with a picked crew, and used it to watch for all who tried to sail in, and especially for the Rhodian.

As it happened, he had sailed in by night, and afterward was again putting out openly. But seeing the quadrireme set out alongside him from the start, he recognized the ship and was thrown into

confusion.

At first he made a dash to outrun her, but as he was being overtaken by the skill of her crew, in the end he was forced to come about and engage the enemy.

Getting the worst of it in the fight between marines—both because of their numbers and because the men were specially chosen—he fell into the enemy's hands.

The Romans, having captured this finely built ship as well and fitted it out with everything needed for the service, in this way put a stop to those who were boldly running in to Lilybaeum.

Chapter 48 The Roman Siege-Works Burnt

While the besieged were actively building counterworks, they had given up any hope of damaging or destroying the enemy's equipment.

But then a windstorm arose with such violence and force, directed against the very approach-works of the engines, that it shook the galleries loose and lifted by sheer force the towers set out in front of them.

At that moment some of the Greek mercenaries, realizing how suited the circumstances were for destroying the works, put the idea to the general.

He took up the suggestion and quickly got ready everything needed for the job. The young men gathered together and set fire to the works at three points.

Since the structures, owing to their age, were in just the right state to catch fire easily, and since the force of the wind was blowing straight against the towers and engines themselves, the spread of the fire turned out to be vigorous and effective, while the Romans' efforts to relieve and rescue them proved in the end useless and impossible.

So great was the consternation the scene caused among those trying to help that they could neither think clearly nor see what was happening. Blinded by the soot and sparks blown into their faces, and by the sheer volume of smoke, quite a few perished and fell, unable even to get close enough to fight the fire.

And the greater the difficulty the enemy faced for the reasons just given, the greater the advantage to those setting the fires.

For everything that could blind or harm them was blown clean away and driven against the enemy; while whatever they shot or hurled at the rescuers and at the works to destroy them landed accurately —because the men loosing it could see the ground in front of them—and struck hard, since the force of the wind worked together with those throwing.

In the end the destruction was so complete that even the bases of the towers and the timbers of the rams were rendered useless by the fire.

After this, the Romans gave up trying to press the siege by means of works. Instead they dug a ditch and threw a palisade around the whole city, built a wall to protect their own camp as well, and left the outcome to time.

Meanwhile the men in Lilybaeum rebuilt the section of wall that had fallen and now endured the siege with good courage.

Chapter 49 The Roman Fleet Sails for Drepana

When news of these events reached Rome, followed by further reports that most of the fleet's crews had been lost, both at the works and in the conduct of the siege generally, they hurriedly enrolled sailors, and once they had gathered about ten thousand, sent them off to Sicily.

These men crossed the strait and reached the camp on foot. The Roman general, Publius Claudius, then assembled his military tribunes and said that now was the time to sail against Drepana with the whole fleet.

For Adherbal, the Carthaginian commander stationed there, was unprepared for what was coming: he did not know that the new crews had arrived, and he was convinced that the Roman fleet could not put to sea because of the losses of men suffered during the siege. When they readily agreed, he at once put on board both the existing crews and those that had recently arrived, and for marines he picked the best volunteers from the whole army—seeing that the voyage was a short one and the prospect of gain plainly at hand.

With these preparations made, he put to sea around midnight, unnoticed by the enemy. At first he sailed in close order, keeping the land on his right.

As soon as it was light and his leading ships came into view off Drepana, Adherbal caught sight of them and was at first thrown off by the unexpected sight.

But quickly collecting himself and grasping that the enemy was attacking, he resolved to attempt anything and endure everything rather than stand by and let his men be shut up in an obvious blockade.

So he at once gathered his crews on the beach and, by proclamation, mustered the mercenaries from the city.

When they had assembled, he set about bringing them, in a few words, to grasp both the hope of victory that lay before them if they dared to fight at sea, and the hardships of a blockade if they hung back out of foreseen danger.

When they readily roused themselves for the sea-battle and shouted at him to lead on and not delay, he praised them, welcomed their eagerness, and ordered them to embark with all speed, to keep their eyes on his ship, and to follow it astern.

Having made these instructions clear, he hurriedly led the way out himself, taking his fleet out close under the very rocks, toward the far side of the harbor away from where the enemy was entering.

Chapter 50 The Roman Fleet Meets Resistance

Publius, the Roman commander, saw that the enemy, contrary to his expectation, were neither giving way nor alarmed at his approach, but were set on fighting a sea-battle.

Some of his own ships were already inside the harbor, others were right at its mouth, and still others were bearing down toward the entrance; so he gave the order for all of them to turn about and sail back out again.

At this, with some of the ships in the harbor and others at the entrance colliding because of the reversal, there arose not only an immense uproar from the men, but the ships, crashing into one another, also broke their oars.

Even so, as each ship ran back out the captains kept forming them up close along the shore and quickly brought their prows to face the enemy.

Publius himself had from the first been sailing astern of the whole fleet, but now, turning aside during the maneuver toward the open sea, he took up his position on the left wing of the entire force.

At the same moment Adherbal, sailing past the left of the enemy [the Romans] with five ships, brought his own ship to a halt facing the enemy on the seaward side; and at the same time, through his officers, he passed the word to each of the ships coming up behind to do the same as those who joined the line ahead of them.

When they had all formed into a single front, he gave the signal through the agreed tokens and at first advanced in good order, while the Romans stayed close to the land because they were waiting for the ships still running out from the harbor.

As a result, the Romans were at a great disadvantage right up against the shore itself.

Chapter 51 Naval Battle Off Drepana

[...] joining battle. When the two fleets were close to one another, the signals were raised on each of the flagships and they engaged.

At first the contest was evenly matched, since both sides were using the best of their land troops as marines on board; but the Carthaginians steadily gained the upper hand, since throughout the whole

engagement they held many advantages.

They were far superior in speed, owing to the better construction of their ships and the fitness of their crews, and the lay of the ground greatly helped them, since they had drawn up their line with the open sea behind them.

For whenever any of them were hard pressed by the enemy, they could withdraw safely to the rear, thanks to their speed, into the open water; and then, wheeling about against the foremost of their pursuers—sometimes circling around them, sometimes striking them broadside as the Roman ships swung clumsily about because of their weight and the inexperience of their crews—they kept ramming again and again and sank many of the vessels.

And whenever one of their allies was in danger, they readily came to the rescue, out of harm's way and in safety, since they made their passage along the sterns of their own ships on the seaward side.

For the Romans the very opposite happened. Those who were hard pressed had no way to retreat to the rear, since they were fighting close to the shore, and any ship that was crowded by the one in front of it either ran onto the shallows and stuck fast in the stern, or was driven against the land and ran aground.

To sail through the gaps in the enemy's line and to appear astern of ships already engaged with others —the most effective maneuver in a sea-battle—was impossible for them, both because of the heaviness of their ships and, still more, because of the inexperience of their crews.

Nor were they able to come to the aid from astern of those who needed it, because they were penned in against the shore and there was not even a little space left for those who wished to help one in distress.

With such difficulty pervading the whole battle—some ships sticking fast on the shallows, others being driven ashore—the Roman commander, seeing what was happening, turned to flight, slipping away from the left wing along the shore, with about thirty ships that happened to be near him.

As for the remaining ships, ninety-three in number, the Carthaginians took possession of them and their crews, except for those men who ran their ships up onto the land and got away.

Chapter 52 Roman Transports for the Camp

The sea-battle having turned out so, Adherbal won high standing among the Carthaginians, as having succeeded through himself and through his own foresight and daring; while Publius lost his good name among the Romans and was bitterly attacked, as having handled affairs rashly and without judgment, and as having, so far as one man could, brought Rome into no small disasters.

For this reason he was later put on trial and exposed to heavy penalties and grave danger.

The Romans, however, despite these events, in their ambition for the whole cause left undone nothing that was possible, but pressed on with the next steps.

And so, when the time for the elections came round, they appointed consuls and at once sent off one of them, Lucius Junius, to convey supplies of grain to those besieging Lilybaeum, along with the other provisions and stores for the army; and they manned sixty ships as escorts for these.

Junius, arriving at Messana and taking on the ships that met him there from the army and from the rest of Sicily, made his way in haste to Syracuse, with a hundred and twenty warships and his provisions in about eight hundred cargo vessels.

From there he handed over to the quaestors half the cargo ships and some of the warships and sent them off, eager to get the army what it needed.

He himself remained at Syracuse, waiting for those that were lagging behind on the voyage from Messana and taking on additional grain from the allies in the interior.

Chapter 53 Carthalo Attacks the Roman Transports

About this same time Adherbal sent off to Carthage the men captured in the sea-battle and the captured ships, and gave his colleague Carthalo thirty ships, in addition to the seventy with which he himself had sailed in, and sent him off with orders to fall suddenly upon the enemy's ships lying at anchor off Lilybaeum, to seize all he could, and to set fire to the rest.

Carthalo obeyed, made his attack just before dawn, and began burning some of the ships and towing others away, so that great confusion arose throughout the Roman camp.

For as the Romans rushed to the rescue of their ships and a shout went up, Himilco, the commander of the garrison at Lilybaeum, grasped what was happening and, seeing it as day was now breaking, sent out the mercenaries from the city against them.

The Romans, with danger pressing in on them from every side, fell into no slight or ordinary confusion.

The Carthaginian admiral, after towing off a few of the vessels and shattering others, then drew off a little way from Lilybaeum, as if making for Heracleia, and lay in wait, intending to block those who were sailing toward the Roman camp.

When his scouts reported that a considerable number of ships of all kinds were bearing down and drawing near, he put out to sea and sailed to meet them, eager to engage because his earlier success had made him contemptuous of the Romans.

In the same way, the light boats accustomed to sail ahead of the squadron reported the enemy's approach to the quaestors who had been sent on in advance from Syracuse.

These men, judging that they were not strong enough for a sea-battle, came to anchor off a small town subject to them—one without a harbor, but with roadsteads and headlands jutting out from the land that conveniently enclosed them.

There they made their landing and, setting up the catapults and stone-throwers from the town, waited for the enemy's attack.

The Carthaginians, on drawing near, at first set about blockading them, supposing that the men, terrified, would withdraw into the little town and leave them to take possession of the ships in safety.

But when this expectation came to nothing—the men on the contrary defending themselves stoutly, and the place presenting many difficulties of every kind—they towed off a few of the provision ships and sailed away to a certain river, where they anchored and watched for the Romans to resume their voyage.

Chapter 54 Shipwreck of the Roman Fleet

The commander left behind at Syracuse, once he had finished what he intended, rounded Pachynus and held his course toward Lilybaeum, knowing nothing of what had happened to those who had sailed ahead.

The Carthaginian admiral, when his scouts again signaled the appearance of the enemy, put out and sailed in haste, wishing to engage them as far as possible from their own ships.

Junius, sighting the Carthaginian fleet and the number of its vessels from a long way off, dared neither to engage nor was he any longer able to escape by flight, since the enemy were close at hand; so he turned aside to a rough and altogether treacherous stretch of coast and came to anchor there, judging it preferable to suffer whatever he must rather than let his squadron, men and all, fall into the enemy's hands.

The Carthaginian admiral, seeing what he had done, rejected the idea of risking a battle and bringing his ships up to such dangerous ground; instead he seized a certain headland and anchored there between the two enemy squadrons, keeping watch and giving his attention to both.

But when a storm came on and a more general disturbance loomed up from the sea, the Carthaginian pilots, foreseeing what was coming from their knowledge of the locality and of seamanship and predicting the outcome, persuaded Carthalo to flee the storm and round the headland of Pachynus.

He sensibly took their advice, and these men, after great toil and barely getting around the headland, anchored in safety; but the Roman fleets, with the storm coming on and the coast being utterly without harbors, were so completely destroyed that not even the wreckage proved of any use—both squadrons alike were utterly and unaccountably ruined.

Chapter 55 The Romans Take Mount Eryx

When this had happened, the fortunes of the Carthaginians rose again and their hopes once more grew more favorable; while the Romans, who had earlier suffered setbacks only up to a point, now withdrew

entirely from the sea but kept control of the open country. The Carthaginians were masters of the sea, yet did not wholly give up hope of the land.

After this everyone—both those at Rome and the troops around Lilybaeum—was indignant at the situation as a whole, on account of the disasters described above; yet they did not abandon their resolve to carry on the siege, but the one side kept up supplies by land without excuse, while the other persisted in the siege as far as they were able.

Junius, brought back to the camp after the shipwreck and deeply distressed, was eager to make some new move and to do what was needed, anxious to recover from the reverse that had occurred.

And so, when even a slight opportunity offered, he seized Eryx by a surprise stroke and made himself master both of the temple of Aphrodite and of the city.

Eryx is a mountain by the sea in Sicily, on the side that faces Italy, between Drepana and Panormus—but closer to and almost adjoining Drepana—and in size it is by far the greatest of the mountains in Sicily except for Aetna.

On its very summit, which is flat, stands the temple of Erycine Aphrodite, which is by common agreement the most distinguished of all the temples in Sicily for its wealth and its general grandeur; and the city is set just below the summit, with a very long and steep approach on every side.

He posted a garrison on the summit, and likewise watched the approach from Drepana, guarding both points carefully—and still more the line of ascent—convinced that in this way he would securely hold both the city and the whole mountain.

Chapter 56 Hamilcar Barca's Seven Years in Hercte

After this the Carthaginians appointed as their commander Hamilcar, surnamed Barca, and put the affairs of the fleet into his hands.

Taking over the naval forces, he set out to ravage Italy. It was the eighteenth year of the war.

After overrunning the territory of Locris and Bruttium, he sailed off from there and put in with his whole fleet at the region of Panormus, and seized the place called Hercte, which lies between Eryx and Panormus by the sea and is reckoned to surpass other sites by far in suitability for the security and long maintenance of an encampment.

For it is a steep-sided mountain rising to a considerable height above the surrounding country. The perimeter of its upper rim is not less than a hundred stades, and the ground enclosed within it is good for pasture and tillage, well placed to catch the sea-breezes and altogether free of deadly wild beasts.

It is ringed by inaccessible cliffs both on the side toward the sea and on the side stretching toward the interior, while the spaces between these need only slight and minor fortification.

It also has within it a knoll that serves at once as a citadel and as a fine lookout point over the country below.

It commands as well a harbor well situated for the run from Drepana and Lilybaeum to Italy, in which there is an abundant supply of water.

It has in all three approaches, all difficult—two from the land and one from the sea. Encamping here at great hazard, Hamilcar, though he had no friendly city of his own and clung to no other hope of any kind, but had thrown himself into the very midst of the enemy, nevertheless made trouble for the Romans in struggles and dangers that were neither small nor trivial.

For, first, using this as his base, he ravaged by sea the coast of Italy as far as the territory of Cumae; and second, on land, when the Romans had encamped opposite him before the city of Panormus at a distance of about five stades, he engaged in many and varied combats on land for nearly three years. About these it is not possible, in writing [...]

Chapter 57 The Two Sides Evenly Matched

Take the case of two outstanding boxers, men matched in both their natural gifts and their physical conditioning. When they have entered the decisive moment of the contest for the crown and are fighting it out, landing blow upon blow without pause, it is impossible—for the combatants and the spectators alike—to keep a precise account of, or to anticipate, each individual feint and stroke.

Yet from the overall vigor of the men, and from the competitive drive of each, one can form an adequate impression of their skill, their strength, and their courage as well. The same holds for the two generals I am now describing.

The reasons for, and the methods by which, they daily set ambushes and counter-ambushes, attacks and assaults against one another could never be set down in full by a writer who tried to enumerate them; and for an audience the recital would be endless and, into the bargain, the reading of it pointless and unprofitable.

But from a general statement about them and about the outcome of their rivalry, one will arrive at a clearer understanding of the events described.

For nothing was left untried—neither the stratagems that could be learned from history, nor the devices prompted by the moment and the immediate situation, nor the undertakings that called for hazardous and forceful daring.

A decisive engagement, however, could not be brought about, and for several reasons. The forces on both sides were evenly matched; the entrenched camps were alike unapproachable because of their strength; and the distance between the two armies was extremely short.

This last was the chief reason why minor clashes occurred ceaselessly day after day, while nothing decisive was ever accomplished.

For it always turned out that the only men killed in these encounters were those who fell into hand-to-hand fighting; while those who once gave way were at once entirely out of danger, safe behind their own defenses, and could then turn about and renew the fight.

Chapter 58 Hamilcar Besieges the Romans at Eryx

Nevertheless, Fortune, like a good umpire of the games, shifted them by a daring move out of the position just described and the struggle they had been engaged in, and shut them up in a more dangerous contest within a narrower space.

For while the Romans were holding Eryx both at its summit and at its base, as I have said, Hamilcar seized the town of the Erycinians, which lay between the summit and the men encamped at the foot.

The result was that the Romans holding the summit endured a siege and faced danger with reckless courage, while the Carthaginians held out with almost incredible tenacity—with the enemy pressing them on every side, and their supplies brought in only with difficulty, since they clung to the sea at a single point by a single approach.

Here once again both sides used against each other every device and force of siege-craft; they bore every kind of privation and made trial of every assault and battle.

In the end—not, as Fabius claims, because they were exhausted and worn down, but like men untouched and unconquerable—they let the crown stand undecided.

For before either side could overcome the other, though they fought on in this place for two more years, the war came to its decision by another means.

Such, then, was the situation at Eryx and among the land forces. The two states were like high-bred fighting birds battling to their last breath.

Such birds, when through exhaustion they have often lost the use of their wings yet hold on by sheer spirit, keep dealing out blows until at last, by chance closing with each other, they seize one another at a vital moment, and once this happens it falls out that one of the two drops first.

Chapter 59 The Romans Once More Build a Fleet

So too the Romans and Carthaginians, worn out by their labors through the unbroken succession of dangers, were utterly past feeling, their strength sapped and their resolve undone by the long years of taxes and expenses. The Romans were fighting on with the same desperate spirit. For nearly five years now they had entirely withdrawn from operations at sea, both because of their reverses there and because they had become convinced they would decide the war by their land forces alone.

But seeing now that the matter was not going forward as they had reckoned—chiefly because of the daring of the Carthaginian commander—they resolved for a third time to stake their hopes on naval power, believing that by this plan, if they seized the right moment for the attempt, they could in this way alone bring the war to a successful close. And so in the end they did.

The first time, they had quit the sea, yielding to the blows of fortune; the second time, they had been worsted in the sea-battle off Drepana.

Now they made this third attempt, and by it they were victorious; cutting off the Carthaginian armies around Eryx from their supplies by sea, they brought the whole struggle to its conclusion.

The undertaking was, for the most part, an act of sheer determination. The public treasury held no funds for the purpose; nevertheless, through the patriotism and generosity of the leading men toward the commonwealth, the means were found to carry it through.

According to the resources at their command, men came forward singly, in pairs, or in threes to furnish a fully fitted quinquereme, on the understanding that they would recover the cost if affairs went well.

In this way two hundred quinqueremes were quickly made ready, built on the model of the Rhodian's ship. The Romans then appointed Gaius Lutatius as commander and sent him out at the start of summer.

He appeared unexpectedly off the coasts of Sicily and seized both the harbor at Drepana and the anchorages near Lilybaeum, since the entire Carthaginian fleet had withdrawn home.

He threw up works around the city of Drepana and made his other preparations for the siege; and while he pressed on with this, doing everything in his power, he also kept watch for the arrival of the Carthaginian fleet, and, mindful of his original purpose—that only through a sea-battle could the whole issue be decided—he let no time be wasted or left idle.

Instead, each day he held practice drills and exercises for the crews suited to his plan, and by attending carefully to the rest of their daily regimen, he turned his sailors, in a very short time, into trained athletes ready for the task before them.

Chapter 60 Battle of the Aegusian Islands

The Carthaginians, when news reached them—contrary to all expectation—that the Romans had put to sea with a fleet and were once again contesting the mastery of the sea, at once fitted out their ships.

Loading them with grain and other provisions, they dispatched the fleet, determined that their forces around Eryx should lack none of the necessities.

They appointed Hanno commander of the naval force. He put out to sea and made landfall at the island called Holy Isle, intent on slipping across to Eryx unobserved by the enemy. There he meant to

unload his cargo and lighten his ships, then take on board as marines the suitable men from among the mercenaries, along with Barcas, and only then to engage the enemy.

But Lutatius grasped the arrival of Hanno's force and worked out their intention. Taking the best men from his land army, he sailed to the island of Aegusa, which lies off Lilybaeum.

There he addressed his forces with words fitting the occasion and informed the helmsmen that a sea-battle would take place the next day.

Toward dawn, as day was just breaking, he saw that the wind was bearing down fresh and full astern of the enemy, while for himself the run out against the wind would be difficult, the sea being hollow and rough. At first he was at a loss as to what to do in the circumstances.

But he reasoned that if he risked battle while the storm held, he would be fighting only against Hanno, against the bare naval crews, and against ships still heavily laden; whereas if he waited for fair weather and held back, letting the enemy cross over and join their land forces, he would be fighting against ships that were nimble and lightened, against the best men of the land armies, and—most formidable of all—against the daring of Hamilcar, than which nothing at that time was more to be feared.

He therefore decided not to let the present opportunity slip; and seeing the enemy's ships running under sail, he put out in haste.

Chapter 61 The Battle of Aegusa

His crews, with their fine physical condition, rode the swell with ease, and he quickly drew up his fleet in a single line, prow facing the enemy. The Carthaginians, seeing that the Romans were blocking their crossing, lowered their masts and, after each ship's company had exhorted one another, closed with their opponents.

Since the state of preparation on each side was the exact opposite of what it had been in the sea-battle off Drepana, the outcome of the fight for each side naturally turned out the opposite as well.

For the Romans had remodeled their shipbuilding and had stripped their vessels of all encumbrances except what was needed for the battle; their crews, well drilled and working together, served them with outstanding effect; and their marines were picked men from the legions, men who would never give ground.

With the Carthaginians the reverse was true. Their ships were laden and so unwieldy for the engagement; their crews were utterly untrained and had been thrown aboard for the emergency; and their marines were newly levied recruits, raw to all hardship and danger.

For because they had never expected the Romans to dispute the sea again, they had grown contemptuous and let their naval forces fall into neglect.

And so, the moment battle was joined, they were worsted at many points of the fighting and quickly gave way. Fifty of their ships were sunk, and seventy captured with their crews.

The rest of the host hoisted their sails and, running before the wind, made off again to Holy Isle, the wind luckily and unexpectedly shifting to serve their need at just the right moment.

The Roman commander, for his part, sailed back to Lilybaeum and busied himself with the army over the disposal of the captured ships and prisoners—a considerable task, for those taken alive in the battle fell little short of ten thousand.

Chapter 62 End of the First Punic War

When the defeat fell upon them unexpectedly, the Carthaginians, as far as their fighting spirit and ambition went, were still ready to carry on the war, but in their reckoning they were at a complete loss.

For they could no longer supply their forces in Sicily, since the enemy controlled the sea; yet to abandon those forces—and so, in a sense, to betray them—would leave them without the men or the leaders to keep fighting.

They therefore quickly sent word to Barcas and entrusted him with the decision over the whole matter. And he indeed acted thoroughly as a good and prudent commander should.

For as long as there was any reasonable hope in the existing circumstances, he left untried nothing that seemed hazardous or daring, but, if any commander ever did, he tested to the full every hope of victory in the war.

But once the situation had turned and no reasonable means was left to save the men under his command, he yielded to circumstances with great good sense and practical judgment, and sent envoys to negotiate a truce and a settlement.

For it is the mark of one and the same commander to be able to see both the moment for victory and, equally, the moment for giving way.

Lutatius readily accepted the overtures, since he was well aware that his own side was worn down and already exhausted by the war; and so it came about that the conflict was brought to an end, on terms drawn up roughly as follows:

“On these conditions there shall be friendship between the Carthaginians and the Romans, provided the Roman people also approve. The Carthaginians shall withdraw from the whole of Sicily, and shall not make war on Hiero, nor bear arms against the Syracusans or against the allies of the Syracusans.

The Carthaginians shall give back to the Romans all prisoners without ransom. The Carthaginians shall pay to the Romans, over twenty years, two thousand two hundred Euboic talents of silver.”

Chapter 63 The Longest and Greatest War in History

When these terms were referred back to Rome, the people did not accept the treaty, but sent out ten commissioners to investigate the matter.

On their arrival they made no change in the substance of the terms, but they tightened them somewhat against the Carthaginians.

They cut the time allowed for paying the tribute in half, added a thousand talents to the sum, and further required the Carthaginians to withdraw from all the islands lying between Italy and Sicily.

Such, then, were the terms, and such the conclusion, of the war that arose between the Romans and Carthaginians over Sicily—a war fought continuously for twenty-four years, the longest, the most unbroken, and the greatest war we know of by report.

In it, apart from the other battles and preparations I have described above, the two sides fought against one another at sea once with more than five hundred quinqueremes between them, and a second time with not far short of seven hundred.

In this war the Romans lost, counting those destroyed in shipwrecks, close to seven hundred quinqueremes, and the Carthaginians about five hundred.

So that those who marvel at the sea-battles and fleets of Antigonus, Ptolemy, and Demetrius, had they looked into these events, might well have been astounded at the overwhelming scale of these operations.

And if one cared to weigh the difference in size between quinqueremes and the triremes with which the Persians fought the Greeks, and again the Athenians and Spartans fought one another, one would find that nowhere in all history have such great forces contended at sea.

Chapter 64 Why Rome is No Longer a Naval Power

From this it is clear—as I proposed at the outset—that it was not by chance, as some of the Greeks suppose, nor by accident, but with very good reason that the Romans, having trained themselves in such great affairs, not only set their hands boldly to the rule and dominion of the whole world, but also achieved their purpose. And here one might naturally be puzzled as to the reason why, now that they have mastered the whole world and possess a superiority many times greater than before, they would be unable either to man so many ships or to put to sea with such great fleets as they once did.

The causes of this puzzle, however, will be clearly understood once we come to the account of their constitution—a subject that we must not treat as a mere aside, nor one to which our listeners should give only idle attention.

For it is a fine thing to contemplate, and one that remains, so to speak, virtually unknown down to the present day, thanks to those who have written about it.

Some of them have simply been ignorant of it, while others have produced an account that is unclear and altogether useless.

Still, in the war just mentioned one would find that the policies of the two states were closely matched—not only in their plans of attack but also in their greatness of spirit, and most of all in their ambition for supremacy.

In the courage of the individual men, however, the Romans were in every respect far the more gallant; while as a commander, the finest of that age in both judgment and daring, we must rank Hamilcar, surnamed Barcas, the natural father of the Hannibal who afterwards made war on the Romans.

Chapter 65 The Sequel of the First Punic War

After this settlement, both states happened to undergo an experience that was peculiar and yet much alike.

For an internal war awaited the Romans—the one against the people called the Faliscans—which they brought to a swift and profitable conclusion, gaining control of their city within a few days.

The Carthaginians, at about the same time, faced a war that was neither small nor to be despised: the one against their foreign mercenaries, the Numidians, and the Libyans who joined them in their revolt.

In the course of it they endured many great terrors, and in the end were in danger not only over their territory but over their own survival and the very soil of their homeland.

It is worth dwelling on this war for several reasons, but, in keeping with my original plan, I shall give an account of it only in summary and briefly.

For the war commonly called the “truceless” war—what its nature and character were—one would best come to understand from what happened then; and those who employ mercenary forces would see most vividly, from the situation of that time, what they must foresee and guard against well in advance; and besides this, how greatly, and by how much, characters that are mixed and barbarous differ from those reared under education, laws, and civic customs.

But most important of all, one would grasp, from what was done in those days, the causes from which the war between the Romans and Carthaginians in the time of Hannibal arose.

Since the causes of that war are still disputed not only among historians but also among those who took part in it, it is useful to set before students of the subject the truest possible account of them.

Chapter 66 Mischief Brewing Among the Mercenaries

As soon as the aforesaid settlement had been carried out, Barcas brought the forces around Eryx back to Lilybaeum and immediately laid down his command; and Gesco, the commandant of the city, set

about transporting the soldiers across into Libya.

Foreseeing what was coming, he prudently embarked them in separate detachments, leaving intervals between each dispatch, with the aim of giving the Carthaginians time, so that those who had sailed across and been paid the arrears of their wages might get clear of Carthage and reach home before the next group to be ferried over arrived to overtake them.

Gesco, then, holding to this idea, was managing the dispatch in this way.

But the Carthaginians—partly because they were short of funds owing to their recent expenses, and partly because they were convinced that the mercenaries would forgo some portion of the wages owed them if they gathered and received them all together in Carthage—kept the arrivals there in this hope and held them in the city.

When this led to more and more wrongdoing, both by night and by day, the Carthaginians at first grew wary of the crowd and the lack of discipline that was developing, and asked the officers that, until arrangements for their pay rations were ready and the rest had arrived, all the men should withdraw to a certain town called Sicca, each taking a gold piece for his immediate needs.

The men readily agreed to the departure and wished to leave their baggage there, as they had at first, on the grounds that they would soon return for their payment.

But the Carthaginians were anxious that the men, having been away for a long time and longing—some for their children, some also for their wives—might either not set out at all, or, having set out, might turn back again for these reasons, so that in this way wrongdoing in the city would be no less than before.

Foreseeing this, they compelled the men, with much ill feeling and entirely against their will, to take their baggage away with them.

The mercenaries, gathered together at Sicca and having for a long time enjoyed rest and leisure—which is the most ruinous thing for foreign forces and is, one might almost say, the chief and sole cause of mutiny—passed their time without restraint.

And, in their idleness, some of them began to reckon up the wages owed them at an inflated figure, and, totaling it at many times what was actually due, declared that this was what they should demand from the Carthaginians.

Chapter 67 The Beginning of the Outbreak

And all of them, recalling the promises their generals had made to encourage them in moments of crisis, conceived high hopes and great expectations of the redress that was coming to them. So, as soon as they had all assembled at Sicca, and Hanno—who was then the Carthaginian general in Libya—arrived and, far from fulfilling their hopes and the promises made to them, spoke instead of the weight

of the tribute and the general financial straits of the city, and tried to get them to forgo even part of the wages acknowledged to be owed them, at once dissension and faction arose, and continual gatherings took place, sometimes by nationality, sometimes of them all together.

And since they were neither of one race nor of one tongue, the camp was full of disorder, uproar, and what is called sheer confusion.

For the Carthaginians, always relying on varied mercenary forces, are right in their aim, by making the army up of many races, that the men should not quickly conspire and become disobedient, nor be hard for their commanders to overawe; but when anger, or slander, or faction has arisen, they utterly fail in instructing, calming, and bringing back to their senses men who have gone astray.

For such forces, once they have fallen into anger and mutual suspicion toward anyone, no longer behave with merely human wickedness, but in the end turn savage like beasts and take on a frenzied disposition.

This is exactly what happened to them on this occasion. For some were Iberians, some Gauls, some Ligurians and Balearic Islanders, and not a few were half-Greeks, most of these deserters and slaves; but the largest part of them were Libyans.

So it was impossible to gather them all together into one assembly, or to devise any other means to that end.

How could it be done? It was impossible for the general to know all their languages; and to hold an assembly through many interpreters, saying the same thing four or five times over, was, one might say, even more impossible than the former.

The only course left was to make his requests and appeals through the officers, which is what Hanno kept trying to do at the time.

Yet here too it turned out that the officers either did not grasp what was said, or, having sometimes agreed with the general, reported the opposite to the men—some out of ignorance, some out of malice—so that everything was full of obscurity, mistrust, and confusion.

For on top of everything else, they suspected that the Carthaginians were deliberately not sending them the generals who knew the services they had rendered in Sicily and who had made them their promises, but had dispatched the one man who had been present at none of these dealings.

In the end, then, they rejected Hanno, lost confidence in their individual officers, and, enraged at the Carthaginians, set off for the city; they encamped about a hundred and twenty stades from Carthage at the place called Tunes, being more than twenty thousand in number.

Chapter 68 The Mercenaries Accept an Arbitration

The Carthaginians then saw their own folly before their eyes, when it was no longer of any use.

For they had blundered greatly in massing so large a body of mercenaries in one place while having no hope of military service to fall back on in their own citizen forces; and, worse still, they had handed over the children, the wives, and along with them the baggage—people whom they might have kept as hostages, thereby deliberating more safely about the situation and finding the mercenaries more compliant to their appeals.

Nonetheless, terrified by the encampment, they endured everything in their eagerness to appease the men's anger; they sent out abundant supplies of provisions and sold them just as the men wished and at whatever prices they fixed, and they kept dispatching members of the senate as envoys, promising to do whatever the men demanded, so far as it lay in their power.

But there was much being newly devised each day among the mercenaries, since they had taken courage and observed the dismay and panic of the Carthaginians, and had grown arrogant and convinced, on account of the dangers they had earlier faced in Sicily against the Roman armies, that not only would the Carthaginians never look them in the eye under arms, but that hardly anyone else among men would either.

So, as soon as the Carthaginians had conceded their claims about the wages, they at once pressed further and demanded the value of the horses they had lost.

When this too was granted, they next said they ought to receive the price of the grain ration owed them over a long period, reckoned at the highest value it had reached during the war.

In short, they always kept inventing something new and unheard of, driving the settlement into the realm of the impossible, because there were among them many ill-disposed and seditious men.

Even so, with the Carthaginians promising everything in their power, the men agreed to refer the disputed points to one of the generals who had served in Sicily.

Now toward Hamilcar Barcas, alongside whom they had shared the dangers in Sicily, they were ill-disposed, since they thought it was largely because of him that they were being slighted—because he neither came to them as an envoy nor, as it seemed, had voluntarily laid down his command.

But toward Gesco they were very kindly inclined, since he had been a general in Sicily and had taken every possible care for them in other matters and especially in their transport home.

Chapter 69 Mathōs and Spendius

So they referred to him the matter of the disputed points. He came by sea with the money and put in at Tunes; and at first he met with the officers, and afterward gathered the men together by nationality.

In part he rebuked them for what had happened, in part he tried to instruct them about the present situation; but most of all he appealed to them regarding the future, asking them to remain well-disposed toward those who had been their paymasters from the start.

Finally he set about settling the arrears of pay, making the disbursement nationality by nationality.

Now there was a certain Campanian, a slave who had deserted from the Romans, a man of bodily strength and of reckless daring in war, named Spendius.

This man, fearing that his master might come and recover him, and that he would be tortured to death under Roman law, dared to say and do anything in his eagerness to wreck the settlement with the Carthaginians.

Together with him there was also a certain Libyan named Mathōs, who was a free man and one of those who had served, but had stirred up a great deal during the disturbances already described. Dreading that he too would pay the penalty on behalf of all the rest, he came to share the views of Spendius and his circle.

Taking the Libyans aside, he pointed out to them that, once the other races had received their pay and departed to their homelands, the Carthaginians would vent on them the anger felt for those others as well, and would want, through punishing them, to strike terror into everyone in Libya.

The crowd was quickly roused by such arguments, and, seizing on the slight pretext that Gesco was paying the wages but deferring the values of the grain and the horses, they at once rushed together into an assembly.

And while Spendius and Mathōs slandered and accused both Gesco and the Carthaginians, the men listened and gave careful attention to what was said. But if anyone else came forward to give different advice, they did not even wait to learn whether he had come to oppose or to support Spendius and his party, but at once stoned him to death.

In this way they killed many, both officers and private soldiers, in the course of these gatherings.

And the only word they all understood in common was this—“throw”—because of the constant practice of it. They did this especially when they had gotten drunk after their midday meals and rushed together.

So whenever anyone began to shout “throw,” it came so swiftly and from all sides at once that no one who had once stepped forward could escape.

Chapter 70 Gesco and His Staff Arrested

And so, since for this reason no one any longer dared to offer advice, they appointed for themselves as their generals Mathōs and Spendius. Gesco saw the whole disorder and turmoil, but, valuing above all the interest of his country and recognizing that, if these men were driven to savagery, the Carthaginians would clearly be in danger of losing everything, he persisted and held firm, sometimes taking their leaders in hand, sometimes gathering the men by nationality and appealing to them.

However, the Libyans had not yet received their grain allowances, and, believing that these ought to have been paid to them, they came up insolently; and Gesco, wishing to rebuke their impudence, told them to go and ask their general Mathōs for it.

At this they became so enraged that, without giving any pause at all, they rushed first to plunder the money that lay ready to hand, and then to seize Gesco and the Carthaginians with him.

Mathōs and Spendius, supposing that the war would be kindled most quickly in this way—if the men did something lawless and in breach of the treaty—aided the frenzy of the mob, plundered the baggage of the Carthaginians together with the money, and, having bound Gesco and those with him outrageously, handed them over into custody.

From then on they made open war against the Carthaginians, having formed impious conspiracies contrary to the common customs of mankind.

This, then, was how the war against the foreigners—also called the Libyan war—took its beginning, and of such a kind.

Mathōs and his men, having accomplished what has been described, at once sent envoys to the cities throughout Libya, urging them to assert their freedom and begging them to help and join in their cause.

After this, when nearly all the peoples of Libya readily heeded their call to revolt from the Carthaginians, and eagerly sent supplies and reinforcements, they divided their forces and undertook to lay siege—some to Utica, others to Hippo Zarytus—because these cities refused to [...]

Chapter 71 Despair at Carthage

There are three things to bear in mind about the Carthaginians. First, the private citizens always supported their own livelihoods from the produce of the land; second, they assembled their public resources and supplies for war from the revenues of Libya; and third, they were accustomed to wage war with foreign mercenary forces.

At this moment they were not only stripped of all these resources at once, against every expectation, but they actually saw each one of the things just mentioned turned against themselves. They sank into utter dejection and despair, since events had fallen out so contrary to their hopes.

For, worn down by the unbroken strain of the war over Sicily, they had hoped that, once the peace settlement was concluded, they would gain some breathing space and a period of welcome stability.

But the opposite befell them: the opening of a still greater and more terrifying war was now upon them.

Previously they had been contesting Sicily with the Romans; now they were about to risk everything for their own survival and for their homeland, taking up a civil war.

On top of this, they had no abundance of weapons, no naval force, and no fleet in good repair, having lost so much in all those sea-battles; nor was there any store of supplies, nor any hope whatsoever of friends or allies coming to their aid from outside.

So it was then that they came to understand clearly how great a difference there is between a foreign war fought across the sea and an internal uprising and upheaval.

Chapter 72 Revolt in the Country

And they themselves, more than anyone, had been the cause of such great evils. For during the previous war, supposing that they had reasonable grounds for it, they had governed the people of Libya with great harshness.

They had taken half of all the other crops, doubled the tribute imposed on the towns from what it had been before, and granted no pardon or consideration whatever to those in difficulty in any of these exactions.

And of their successive generals they admired and honored not those who treated the populace gently and humanely, but those who secured for them the most abundant supplies and provisions, even while dealing most cruelly with the country people—one of whom was Hanno.

So it was that the men needed not even any urging to revolt, but only a single messenger.

And the women, who in earlier times had looked on while their husbands and parents were being led off for the levies, now bound themselves by oath, town by town, to hide none of their possessions; and, stripping off their ornaments, they contributed them without reservation toward the soldiers' pay.

In this way they provided Mathos and Spendius with such ample means that they were able not only to pay off the wages still owed to the mercenaries, as they had promised when inciting the revolt, but also to keep themselves well supplied for the future.

So true it is that those who plan rightly must always look not only to the present, but still more to what lies ahead.

Chapter 73 The Carthaginians Prepare

Nevertheless, even in such a desperate state, the Carthaginians appointed Hanno as their general—because he was thought to have, on an earlier occasion, brought Hecatompylos in Libya under their control—and they began to gather mercenaries and to arm those of their citizens who were of military age.

They also trained and organized the citizen cavalry, and made ready what ships remained to them—triremes, penteconters, and the largest of their light boats.

Meanwhile Mathos, joined by as many as seventy thousand Libyans, divided these forces and kept up the sieges of the people of Utica and of Hippo Zarytus in security, while firmly holding the encampment at Tunes, and so cut the Carthaginians off from the whole of outer Libya.

For Carthage itself lies in a gulf, projecting outward like a peninsula by its situation, surrounded for the most part partly by the sea and partly by a lake.

The isthmus that joins it to Libya is about twenty-five stades wide. On the side of this isthmus that faces the open sea, and at no great distance, lies the city of Utica; on the other side, beside the lake, lies Tunes.

Chapter 74 Failures of Hanno

Encamping at both of these points, the mercenaries had now cut the Carthaginians off from the countryside and went on to lay plans against the city itself, approaching the wall sometimes by day and sometimes by night, and throwing those inside into utter fear and confusion. As for Hanno, he was capable enough when it came to preparations, for he had a natural talent for this side of things; but once he set out with his army he was a different man, for he made poor use of his opportunities and handled affairs as a whole with inexperience and sluggishness.

Thus, when he first marched to the relief of the besieged at Utica and struck terror into the enemy with the multitude of his beasts—for he had no fewer than a hundred elephants—and then, having gained the beginning of a decisive advantage, he made such bad use of it that he came close to destroying the besieged as well.

For he brought out from the city the catapults, the missiles, and, in short, all the equipment for the siege, and, encamping before the city, undertook to attack the enemy's stockade.

When the beasts forced their way into the enemy's camp, the foe, unable to withstand their weight and the force of their charge, all fled from the encampment.

Many of them died from wounds inflicted by the beasts, while the part that survived took up position on a certain steep, thickly wooded hill, trusting in the natural security of the ground.

But Hanno, used to fighting against Numidians and Libyans—who, once they give way, keep up their flight for two or three days, putting as much distance between themselves and the enemy as they can—supposed that on this occasion too the war was at an end and that he had won a complete victory.

So he neglected his soldiers and the camp as a whole, and went into the city himself to attend to his own comfort.

But the mercenaries who had taken refuge on the hill had been bred up in the daring tactics of Barcas, and were accustomed from their battles in Sicily to retreat at one moment and then, in a sudden reversal, to attack the enemy again, often several times in the same day.

Now, seeing that the general had withdrawn into the city, and that most of the men, because of their victory, had grown careless and were drifting away from the camp, they formed up together and fell upon the stockade. They killed many of the soldiers and forced the rest to flee in disgrace beneath the city walls and gates, and they seized all the baggage and all the siege equipment of the besieged, which Hanno, on top of everything else, had brought out from the city and so delivered into the hands of the enemy.

And it was not only on this occasion that he behaved so sluggishly: a few days later, when the enemy had encamped opposite him near a place called Gorza, he had two chances to win in pitched battle and two more by surprise attack— since the enemy were encamped close beside him—yet he seems to have thrown both of these away rashly and against all reason.

Chapter 75 Hamilcar Barcas Becomes Commander in Chief

For this reason the Carthaginians, seeing that he was mismanaging affairs, once more placed Hamilcar, surnamed Barcas, at the head of things, and sent him out as general for the war then in progress, giving him seventy elephants, the mercenaries that had been collected, the men who had deserted from the enemy, and along with these the citizen cavalry and infantry—so that the whole force came to about ten thousand men.

At his very first sortie he struck the enemy with dismay by the unexpectedness of his move, broke their spirit, raised the siege of Utica, and showed himself worthy of his earlier deeds and of the people's high expectations.

What he accomplished in this operation was as follows. The hills that bridge the neck of land joining Carthage to Libya are hard to cross, and have only man-made passes leading out to the countryside; and it happened that Mathos had occupied with garrisons all the conveniently placed points along these hills.

In addition, the river called Macaras likewise blocks, at certain points, the route from the city to the countryside, being for the most part impassable because of the volume of its current; and since there was only one bridge over it, Mathos was guarding this crossing securely, having built a town upon it.

The result was that the Carthaginians could not even set foot in the country with an army—indeed, not even private individuals wishing to slip through could easily do so without being detected by the enemy.

With his eye on these difficulties, and testing every plan and every opportunity because of the trouble of getting out, Hamilcar devised the following scheme.

He had observed that at the river's mouth, where it discharges into the sea, the opening became silted up under certain conditions of wind, so that the passage right at the mouth turned shallow and marsh-like. He therefore got everything ready in the camp for the march out, keeping his plan hidden within himself, and waited for this condition to occur.

When the moment presented itself, he set out by night and, unobserved by anyone, brought his force across the place just mentioned by daybreak.

Chapter 76 Hamilcar Barcas Defeats Spendius

The maneuver came as a complete surprise both to those in the city and to the enemy; and Hamilcar advanced across the plain, making his way toward those who were guarding the bridge. When Spendius and his men realized what had happened, they came out into the plain and moved to support one another: those from the town at the bridge numbered no fewer than ten thousand, and those from Utica more than fifteen thousand.

When they came within sight of one another, supposing that they had caught the Carthaginians between them, they eagerly passed the word along, urging each other on, and engaged the enemy.

Hamilcar led his march with the elephants in front, the cavalry and light troops behind them, and the heavy infantry last.

But seeing the enemy bearing down on him too recklessly, he gave the order for all his men to turn about.

Those in the van he ordered to wheel around and retire at speed; while those who had been in the rear from the start he wheeled about and drew up to face the oncoming enemy.

The Libyans and mercenaries, thinking that the Carthaginians had been thrown into panic and were fleeing, broke their formation, pressed in, and joined battle hand to hand with vigor.

But the moment the cavalry, having closed with those drawn up in line, wheeled about and stood firm, and the rest of the army came on, the Libyans, dismayed at this unexpected turn, gave way and at once fled—since they had been pressing the attack carelessly and in scattered order.

In the end, some of them ran into their own men coming up behind, stumbled, and destroyed both themselves and their comrades; but the greater number were trampled down, with the cavalry and the beasts bearing down upon them at close quarters.

So about six thousand of the Libyans and the foreign troops perished, and around two thousand were taken prisoner; the rest escaped, some to the town by the bridge, others to the encampment near Utica.

Having won the advantage in the manner described, Hamilcar followed hard on the enemy's heels. He took the town at the bridge by assault, the enemy there abandoning it and fleeing to Tunes; and, marching through the rest of the country, he brought some towns over to his side and stormed most of the others by force.

He thus instilled a little courage and boldness into the Carthaginians, freeing them to some degree from the despair into which they had fallen.

Chapter 77 Mathos Harasses Hamilcar

Mathos himself, meanwhile, remained at the siege of Hippo Zarytus, but advised Autaritus, the leader of the Gauls, and Spendius to keep close to the enemy, avoiding the plains because of the great number of cavalry and beasts on the enemy's side, but marching parallel with them along the foothills and joining in attacks whenever some difficulty befell them.

Along with these plans, he also sent word to the Numidians and the Libyans, begging them to come to their aid and not to throw away these opportunities for freedom.

Spendius, taking with him from Tunes about six thousand men in all, drawn from each of the nationalities, advanced, marching along the foothills parallel to the Carthaginians, and bringing with him, besides the men already mentioned, the Gauls under Autaritus, who numbered about two thousand.

For the remaining part of their original body had deserted to the Romans during the encampments around Eryx.

When Hamilcar had encamped in a certain plain enclosed on every side by mountains, it happened that at this very moment the reinforcements from the Numidians and Libyans linked up with Spendius's force.

Chapter 78 Narávas Joins Hamilcar

And so the Carthaginians suddenly found the Libyans encamped in front of them, the Numidians at their rear, and Spendius's men on their flank, which threw them into great difficulty and left them hard to escape. At this very time there was a man named Narávas, one of the most distinguished Numidians and full of warlike energy. He had always been well disposed toward the Carthaginians, having an inherited bond of friendship with them, and at this moment he was all the more spurred on by his admiration for Hamilcar the general.

He therefore reckoned that he had a favorable opportunity to make contact with him and form an alliance, and he came to the camp with about a hundred Numidians around him.

Drawing near to the palisade, he boldly waited there, signaling with his hand.

Hamilcar, struck by the boldness of the move, sent forward one of his cavalrymen, and Narávas said that he wished to come and confer with the general.

While the Carthaginian commander was still doubtful and distrustful, Narávas handed over his horse and his lances to the men with him and presented himself, unarmed and full of confidence, in the camp.

The Carthaginians partly marveled at his daring and partly were astonished by it; nonetheless they received him, and they came together to confer.

When he had entered into discussion, he declared that he was well disposed toward all Carthaginians, but that above all he desired to become a friend of Barcas. For this reason, he said, he had now come to ally himself with him and to share honestly in every action and every undertaking.

When Hamilcar heard this, he was so greatly pleased—both by the young man's courage in coming and by his straightforwardness in the interview—that he not only agreed to take him on as a partner in his operations, but also promised on oath to give him his daughter in marriage, provided that Narávas kept faith with Carthage to the end.

Once the agreement had been made, Narávas came bringing the Numidians under his command, who numbered about two thousand, and Hamilcar, reinforced by this body of troops, drew up his line against the enemy. Spendius and his men, having joined forces with the Libyans and come down into the plain, engaged the Carthaginians.

A hard-fought battle took place, and Hamilcar's side was victorious. The elephants fought well, but Narávas rendered the most conspicuous service of all.

Autaritus and Spendius escaped, but of the rest about ten thousand fell and about four thousand were taken prisoner.

When the success had been completed, Hamilcar granted to those prisoners who were willing the right to serve in his army alongside him, and he equipped them with arms taken from the enemy's spoils.

As for those who were unwilling, he gathered them together and addressed them, saying that up to the present he held them excused for the wrongs they had committed, and that for this reason he permitted them to go their own ways, wherever each of them might choose.

After this he warned them sternly that none of them should bear arms against Carthage, for if any were caught doing so, he would meet with punishment from which there would be no reprieve.

Chapter 79 The Mutineers Resolve to Murder Gesco

At about this same time the mercenaries who were on garrison duty in Sardinia, taking the men of Mathos and Spendius as their model, attacked the Carthaginians on the island.

The garrison commander, Bostarus, who was then with them, they shut up in the citadel together with his own countrymen and put to death.

When the Carthaginians again sent out a general, Hanno, with a force, and these troops too deserted Hanno and went over to the mutineers, they got the aforesaid Hanno into their hands alive and at once crucified him. After that, devising one extraordinary torture after another, they tortured to death every Carthaginian on the island.

From then on they brought the cities under their control and held the island firmly, until they fell into conflict with the Sardinians and were driven out by them into Italy.

This, then, was how Sardinia was lost to Carthage—an island remarkable for its size, its dense population, and its produce.

But since many writers have already said a great deal about it, I do not think it necessary to repeat what is universally agreed.

Now Mathos and Spendius, and with them Autaritus the Gaul, viewed with suspicion Hamilcar's humane treatment of his prisoners. They feared that, won over by such conduct, the Libyans and the mass of the mercenaries might rush toward the safety thus held out to them. So they began to plan how, by committing some new act of sacrilege, they might once and for all turn the multitude into beasts in their hatred of the Carthaginians.

They decided, therefore, to assemble the rank and file. Once this was done, they brought in a letter-carrier, supposedly sent by their fellow conspirators in Sardinia.

The letter stated plainly that Gesco and all those with him—the men they had treacherously seized at Tunes, as I described above—should be guarded carefully, since certain people in the camp were negotiating with the Carthaginians for their rescue.

Seizing on this pretext, Spendius first urged the men not to trust the leniency that the Carthaginian general had shown toward the prisoners.

For, he said, it was not out of any wish to spare their lives that Hamilcar had decided to deal with the captives in this way; rather, he was eager, by releasing them, to get us into his power, so that he might punish not just some of us but all of us at once, once we had trusted him.

In addition, he advised them to take care that, by letting Gesco and his men go, they did not earn the contempt of their enemies and do grave harm to their own cause—by allowing such a man and so capable a general to escape, one who was likely to become their most formidable enemy.

Chapter 80 The Murder of Gesco

While he was still saying this, another letter-carrier arrived, supposedly sent by the men at Tunes bringing a message similar to the one from Sardinia. Following up on this, Autaritus the Gaul declared that there was only one path to safety for their cause: to give up entirely every hope that rested on the Carthaginians.

As long as anyone clung to the prospect of the Carthaginians' kindness, he said, that man could not become a genuine ally to them.

He therefore demanded that they trust these messengers, listen to these men, and give their attention to those who consistently brought reports of the most hateful and bitter kind against the Carthaginians; and he urged them to regard anyone who spoke to the contrary as traitors and enemies.

Having said this, he advised that they should torture and put to death Gesco and the men seized along with him, as well as the Carthaginians who had been captured afterward.

He was the most effective speaker in their councils, because many could understand his speech.

For, having long served as a soldier, he knew how to speak Phoenician, and most of the men had come to be at home with this language because of the great length of the previous campaign.

And so, when the multitude praised him with one accord, he withdrew in high favor.

Many men then came forward from each of the various peoples, all at once, wishing to plead at least against the torture, because of the kindnesses Gesco had done them. But nothing of what they said could be understood, since many were speaking at the same time, each in his own language.

When at last it became clear that they were pleading against the punishment, and one of those seated cried out, “Stone them!” they all at once stoned to death the men who had come forward.

These men, mangled as though by wild beasts, were carried off by their relatives.

Then Spendius and his followers took Gesco and his companions, about seven hundred in number, and led them out of the palisade. Bringing them a short distance in front of the camp, they first cut off their hands, beginning with Gesco—the very man whom, a short time before, they had singled out from among all the Carthaginians, proclaiming him their benefactor and entrusting to him the settlement of their disputes.

After they had cut off their hands, they mutilated the wretched men further; and having maimed them and broken their legs as well, they threw them, still alive, into a pit.

Chapter 81 Atrocities of the Mutineers

When this calamity was reported to them, the Carthaginians could do nothing. In their grief and anguish at the disaster, they sent envoys to Hamilcar and to the other general, Hanno, begging them to come to their aid and to avenge those who had suffered.

To the perpetrators of the sacrilege they sent heralds to ask for the recovery of the dead bodies.

But the mutineers did not give them up, and they warned those present to send them no further herald or envoy, declaring that anyone who came would suffer the same punishment that Gesco had just undergone.

And for the future they passed a resolution, and exhorted one another to keep it: that any Carthaginian they caught they would torture and kill, and any of Carthage’s allies they would send back to Carthage with his hands cut off. And this they continued to carry out scrupulously.

Looking at all this, one would not hesitate to say that it is not only the bodies of men—and certain ulcers and tumors that grow in them—that become so inflamed and utterly beyond cure, but, far more

so, their souls as well.

For with ulcers, if you apply treatment, they are sometimes irritated by the very treatment and spread the faster; but if, on the other hand, you leave them alone, by their own nature they keep destroying the surrounding flesh and do not stop until they have consumed what lies beneath.

In much the same way, such gangrenous and festering growths often fasten upon men's souls, so that no creature becomes more impious or more savage than man.

Toward such men, if you offer any pardon and kindness, they take what happens to be a plot and a trick, and they grow more distrustful and more hostile toward those who treat them kindly.

But if you retaliate, then, vying with them in fury, there is no forbidden or dreadful act they will not undertake, counting such audacity a fine thing—until in the end, brutalized, they pass out of human nature altogether.

The chief and largest cause of such a disposition we must reckon to be wicked customs and a bad upbringing from childhood; but there are several contributing causes as well, and the greatest of these is the persistent arrogance and greed of those in command.

This was exactly what was happening at that time, both with the body of mercenaries as a whole and, still more, with their leaders.

Chapter 82 Revolt of Hippo Zarytus and Utica

Hamilcar, hard pressed by the desperate fury of the enemy, summoned Hanno to join him, convinced that once the two armies were combined he would more quickly bring the whole affair to an end.

Of the enemy he overpowered, some he destroyed in hand-to-hand combat, while those who were brought to him alive he threw to the elephants—seeing this as the one solution, if he could utterly wipe out his foes.

But just when the Carthaginians seemed to have brighter hopes regarding the war, a complete and unexpected reversal of their fortunes came over them.

For the two generals, having joined forces, fell into such a quarrel with each other that they not only let slip their chances against the enemy but, through their rivalry with one another, even handed the enemy many opportunities against themselves.

When the Carthaginians realized this, they ordered one of the generals to leave and the other to remain—whichever one the troops should choose.

At the same time, the supplies being brought to them from the place they call the Emporia, on which they had pinned their greatest hopes for food and other necessities, happened to be completely destroyed at sea by a storm.

And the affairs of Sardinia, as I said above, had been lost to them—an island that had always rendered them great service in their times of crisis.

But the greatest blow of all was the revolt of the cities of Hippo Zarytus and Utica. These were the only cities in all Libya that had not only borne the present war nobly, but had also gallantly endured the times of Agathocles and the invasion of the Romans—in short, had never once adopted any policy hostile to Carthage.

But now, quite apart from their irrational revolt to the Libyans, they immediately showed by their defection the greatest friendship and loyalty toward them, while toward the Carthaginians they conceived an implacable anger and hatred.

For they killed the men who had come from Carthage to help them—about five hundred—along with their commander, and threw them all down from the wall; they handed the city over to the Libyans; and they would not even permit the Carthaginians to bury their unfortunate dead, though they asked to do so.

While these things were happening, Mathos and Spendius, emboldened by these events, undertook to lay siege to Carthage itself.

Barcas, meanwhile, took on the general Hannibal—for the citizens had sent this man out to the army after the troops decided that Hanno must withdraw, in accordance with the authority the Carthaginians had granted them regarding the quarrels that had arisen between the generals.

And so Hamilcar, with Hannibal and Narávas, advanced through the country, cutting off the supply lines of Mathos and Spendius—in this and in everything else receiving the greatest service from Narávas the Numidian.

Chapter 83 Hippo and Utica Join the Rebels

Such, then, was the situation of the forces in the field. The Carthaginians, hemmed in on every side, were compelled to fall back on their hopes from the cities allied with them.

Now Hiero, throughout the present war, had always shown great zeal in everything they asked of him, and at this point he was even more eager, convinced that it was in his own interest—both for his sovereignty in Sicily and for his friendship with Rome—that the Carthaginians should survive, so that the dominant power should not be left entirely free to accomplish its purpose without resistance. His reasoning was thoroughly shrewd and sensible.

For one should never overlook such matters, nor help anyone build up so great a power that it becomes impossible even to dispute with him over rights that are universally acknowledged.

The Romans, too, observing the terms of justice laid down in their treaty, fell short in no point of goodwill.

At the outset, indeed, a dispute had arisen between the two sides, for the following sort of reasons.

The Carthaginians had been bringing in to themselves those who sailed from Italy to Libya carrying supplies to the enemy, and when nearly five hundred of these men had been collected in custody, the Romans were angered.

After that, however, they sent an embassy and recovered all the men by negotiation, and were so well satisfied that they at once gave back to the Carthaginians, in return, the prisoners still remaining in their hands from the war over Sicily.

From that time on they responded readily and generously to each request made of them.

For this reason they permitted their merchants to export to the Carthaginians whatever was urgently needed, while they forbade exports to the enemy.

And later, when the mercenaries in Sardinia—at the time they revolted from Carthage—tried to draw the Romans onto the island, they did not respond; and when the people of Utica offered to put themselves under Roman control, they did not accept them, keeping faith with the terms of the treaty.

Chapter 84 Hamilcar's Tactical Superiority

The Carthaginians, then, receiving the support of the friends mentioned above, held out against the siege. But Mathos and Spendius found themselves no less besieged than besieging.

For Hamilcar reduced them to such a shortage of provisions that in the end they were forced to break off the siege.

After some time they gathered the best of the mercenaries and the Libyans—in all about fifty thousand, among whom was Zarzas the Libyan with the men under his command—and set out once more to maneuver against Hamilcar in the open country and keep watch on him.

They kept away from the level ground, terrified of the elephants and of Narávas's cavalry, but they tried to seize the hill country and the narrow passes in advance.

In these operations it turned out that, in daring and in their plans of attack, they fell in no way short of their opponents, but because of their inexperience they were often worsted.

It was then, it seems, that one could see in actual fact how great a difference there is between methodical experience and the skill of a general on the one hand, and inexperience and mere unreasoning, soldierly routine on the other.

For in many of the smaller engagements he cut them off and hemmed them in, like a skilled draughts-player, and destroyed them without a fight; and in the larger, decisive encounters he killed many by luring them into ambushes they never suspected, and threw others into panic by appearing suddenly

and unexpectedly, sometimes by day and sometimes by night. All those he took alive he threw to the elephants.

Finally, having camped against them unexpectedly in ground unsuited to their needs but well suited to his own strength, he brought them to such a pass that—neither daring to risk a battle nor able to flee, because they were hemmed in on every side by trench and palisade—they were at last driven by famine to eat one another.

So the divine power was bringing upon them a fitting recompense for their impiety and lawlessness toward their neighbors.

For they did not dare to come out to battle, since defeat was certain and punishment plain for any who were captured; and as for terms, they did not even think to make mention of them, conscious of what they had done.

Still clinging always to the hope of relief from Tunes, because of the promises of their leaders, they endured to do anything, even against themselves.

Chapter 85 Hamilcar Captures Spendius

When they had impiously consumed their prisoners by using them for food, and had then likewise consumed the bodies of their slaves, and still no relief came from Tunes, the maltreatment in store for the leaders now became unmistakable, given the desperate fury rising among the rank and file. So Autaritus, Zarzas, Spendius, and their companions decided to put themselves into the hands of the enemy and to open negotiations with Hamilcar about a settlement.

They therefore sent a herald, obtained safe-conduct for an embassy, and came to the Carthaginians, ten men in all.

With them Hamilcar concluded an agreement on these terms: the Carthaginians might pick out any ten of the enemy they wished, and would release the rest, each man keeping a single tunic.

As soon as the terms were settled, Hamilcar declared that, in accordance with the agreement, he chose the men then present. In this way the Carthaginians gained possession of Autaritus, Spendius, and the other most prominent leaders.

When the Libyans learned that their leaders had been seized, they assumed they had been betrayed—since they did not know the terms of the agreement—and on that account rushed to arms.

Hamilcar then surrounded them with his elephants and the rest of his force and destroyed them all, more than forty thousand men, near the place called the Saw, which, it turns out, owes its name to the resemblance of its shape to that tool.

Chapter 86 Mathōs Captures Hannibal

By accomplishing what has just been described, Hamilcar once again gave the Carthaginians great hope of a better outcome, though they had already despaired of survival. He himself, together with Naravas and Hannibal, went about the countryside and the cities.

As the Libyans came over and shifted their allegiance to them on account of the recent success, they brought most of the cities under their control and then advanced on Tunes and set about besieging Mathōs and his forces.

On the side facing Carthage, Hannibal pitched his camp; on the opposite side, Hamilcar.

After this they brought Spendius and the other captives up to the walls and crucified them in full view.

But Mathōs and his men, observing that Hannibal was behaving carelessly and over-confidently, attacked his palisade, killed many of the Carthaginians, drove them all out of the camp, seized the entire baggage train, and took the general Hannibal alive.

They brought him at once to Spendius's cross, and after torturing him cruelly, they took Spendius down, fastened Hannibal up alive in his place, and slaughtered around Spendius's body thirty of the most prominent Carthaginians, Fortune, as if on purpose, giving each side in turn, by way of contrast, the occasion to outdo the other in vengeance.

Barcas was late in realizing that an attack had been made by the men from the town, because of the distance between the camps; and even once he did realize it, he could not bring help in time because of the rough ground that lay between.

He therefore broke camp from Tunes, marched on to the river Macaras, and encamped near the mouth of the river by the sea.

Chapter 87 Final Defeat of the Mutineers

This unexpected reversal once more left the Carthaginians dejected and despondent; for just as they were regaining their spirits, their hopes collapsed again in an instant.

Even so, they did not give up doing what they could for their own survival.

And so they appointed thirty members of the senate, and along with them Hanno—the general who had earlier withdrawn and was now brought back into command—and, arming all the remaining men of military age, they sent these off to Barcas as though making their last throw of the dice, charging the members of the senate emphatically to settle, by any means possible, the dispute between the generals that had arisen earlier, and to force them to act in concert, in view of the present state of affairs.

The envoys put forward many and varied arguments, and once they had brought the generals face to face, Hanno and Barcas were compelled to give way and to be persuaded by what was said.

From then on they acted in concert, of one mind, and everything went according to the Carthaginians' wishes, so that Mathōs and his men, finding themselves at a disadvantage in the engagements that took place piecemeal—for they fought many around the town called Leptis and some of the other cities—finally pressed to decide the issue by a pitched battle, the Carthaginians being eager for this course as well.

Both sides, therefore, having set their minds on this, summoned all their allies to the conflict and gathered the garrisons from the cities, intending to stake everything on the outcome.

When each side had its preparations ready for the attempt, they drew up in line and joined battle by mutual agreement.

The victory went to the Carthaginians: most of the Libyans were destroyed in the battle itself, while the rest fled together to a certain town and surrendered themselves not long afterward; and Mathōs fell into his enemies' hands alive.

Chapter 88 Aftereffects in Hippo, Utica, and Sardinia

After the battle, the other parts of Libya immediately submitted to the Carthaginians; but the cities of the Hippacritae and the Uticans held out, having no opening for a settlement, since their initial undertakings had left them no room for mercy or pardon.

So true is it that, even in wrongdoing of this kind, there is a great difference made by moderation and by deliberately avoiding any irreparable act.

Nevertheless, by encamping against them—Hanno against the one, Barcas against the other—they quickly forced them to make terms and agreements satisfactory to the Carthaginians.

The Libyan War, then, after bringing the Carthaginians into such straits, had an outcome such that the Carthaginians not only regained control of Libya but also took fitting vengeance on those responsible for the revolt; for at the very end, the young men led a triumphal procession through the city and inflicted every kind of torment upon Mathōs and his followers.

For three years and about four months the mercenaries waged this war against the Carthaginians—a war that, of all those we know of by report, far surpassed the rest in cruelty and lawlessness.

About this time the Romans, invited by the mercenaries who had deserted to them from Sardinia, set about sailing against that island. When the Carthaginians took offense at this, on the ground that sovereignty over Sardinia belonged rather to them, and prepared to proceed against those who had made the island revolt from them, the Romans seized on this as a pretext and voted for war against the Carthaginians, alleging that their preparations were directed not against the Sardinians but against themselves.

The Carthaginians, having against all expectation just escaped the war described above, and being in every way ill-disposed at that moment to take up their hostility toward the Romans again, yielded to the circumstances and not only withdrew from Sardinia but also paid the Romans an additional twelve hundred talents on condition that they not have to take on the war for the present. So this was how these things came about.

Book II

The Battle of Telamon (225 BC): Celtic warriors surrounded by consular armies in Etruria. Book II, 27–31.

Chapter 1 Recapitulation of Book 1

In the book before this one I set out clearly when the Romans, having consolidated their position in Italy, began to take a hand in affairs beyond it; and after that, how they crossed over into Sicily, and for what reasons they undertook the war against the Carthaginians over that island.

After that I told when they first began to assemble naval forces, and what happened to each side over the course of the war down to its conclusion—the outcome of which was that the Carthaginians withdrew from the whole of Sicily, while the Romans gained control of the entire island except for the districts under Hiero's command.

Following on from this, I set about describing how the mercenaries, in revolt against the Carthaginians, kindled what is called the Libyan War; how far the atrocities committed during it went; and what course these extraordinary events ran until their end and the triumph of Carthage.

Now I shall try to make plain what came next, touching on each matter in summary fashion, in keeping with the plan I laid out from the start.

For as soon as the Carthaginians had settled affairs in Libya, they at once raised an army and dispatched Hamilcar to the regions of Iberia.

He took over the troops, together with his son Hannibal—then nine years old—and crossing by the Pillars of Heracles, set about recovering Carthaginian fortunes in Iberia.

He spent about nine years in those parts, and after subjecting many of the Iberians to Carthage, some by war and some by persuasion, he ended his life in a way worthy of his earlier achievements.

For while drawn up in battle against the most warlike peoples, those with the greatest power, and while exposing himself with daring and reckless courage at the critical moment of danger, he met a valiant death.

The Carthaginians handed over the command to Hasdrubal, who was his son-in-law and the commander of his fleet.

Chapter 2 Situation in Illyria

It was at this same period that the Romans set about making their first crossing, with an army, into Illyria and these parts of Europe. This is not to be looked at as a minor matter, but must be studied

with close attention by anyone who genuinely wishes to grasp both the purpose of my work and the growth and consolidation of Roman power.

They decided to make the crossing for reasons of the following kind.

Agron, king of the Illyrians, was the son of Pleuratus, and he possessed the most powerful land and naval forces of any king who had reigned in Illyria before him.

Bribed with money by Demetrius, the father of Philip, he had promised to help the Medionians, who were being besieged by the Aetolians.

For the Aetolians, being quite unable to persuade the Medionians to join their own league, had resolved to take them by force.

So they marched out with their whole army, encamped around the city, and laid siege to it without a break, bringing every kind of force and siege engine against it.

But when the time for the annual elections drew near, and a new general had to be chosen, and the besieged were already in a bad way and seemed likely to surrender any day, the general then in office made a proposal to the Aetolians. He argued that, since it was he who had taken on the hardships and dangers of the siege, it was only fair that, once they captured the place, he should be allowed both the management of the spoils and the privilege of inscribing his name on the dedicated arms.

But some objected to what he said—above all those who were standing for the office—and urged the assembly not to settle the matter in advance, but to leave it open, so that fortune might bestow this crown on whomever it chose.

Chapter 3 The Illyrians Relieve Medion

In the end the Aetolians decided that whoever was appointed general and captured the city should share with his predecessor both the management of the spoils and the inscribing of the arms. This had been resolved, and on the very next day the election and the transfer of office were due to take place, as is the custom among the Aetolians, when during the night a hundred boats sailed up to the territory of Medion, to the places nearest the city, carrying five thousand Illyrians.

They put in to shore, and when day came they made their landing swiftly and unobserved, and forming up in the order customary among them, advanced in companies against the Aetolian camp.

When the Aetolians realized what was happening, they were taken aback by the unexpectedness and the boldness of the Illyrians; yet, having long been full of self-importance and confident in their own strength, they remained reasonably steady.

So they drew up the bulk of their hoplites and cavalry on the level ground in front of their camp, while with a portion of their cavalry and their light troops they moved to seize in advance the high ground in front of the palisade, which was conveniently placed for defense.

But the Illyrians, charging the light troops at the first rush, drove them back by the sheer mass and weight of their formation, and forced the cavalry stationed with them to fall back on the heavy infantry.

Then, charging down from the high ground against the troops drawn up on the plain, they quickly routed them, especially as the Medionians joined the attack on the Aetolians by sallying out from the city at the same time.

They killed many of them and took even more prisoners, and they captured all their arms and baggage.

Chapter 4 Death of Agron of Illyria

So the Illyrians, having carried out their king's orders and brought the baggage and the rest of the plunder down to their boats, at once put to sea, setting their course for home. The Medionians, having won an unexpected deliverance, gathered in assembly and deliberated on their affairs in general and, in particular, on the inscribing of the arms.

They resolved to make the inscription a joint one, naming both the man who had held the office of Aetolian general and those who were standing for it for the coming year, in accordance with the Aetolians' own decree— as though Fortune were deliberately demonstrating her power to the rest of mankind through what had happened to these men.

For the very things the Medionians had expected to suffer at the hands of their enemies any moment now, she gave them the power to inflict on those same enemies, all in a very short space of time.

And the Aetolians, by the unexpected disaster they met with, taught everyone never to treat the future as though it had already happened, nor to count confidently on outcomes that may still turn out otherwise, but to allow a share to the unexpected—being human in every situation, but most of all in matters of war.

As for King Agron: when the boats had sailed back and he had heard from his officers the details of the engagement, he was overjoyed at the thought of having beaten the Aetolians, those men of the highest spirit. He gave himself over to bouts of drinking and other such revelry, and fell ill with pleurisy, from which within a few days he died.

His wife Teuta took over the kingdom and conducted the detailed administration of affairs through trusted friends.

But she relied on a woman's reasoning, looking only at the recent stroke of good fortune and taking no thought for anything beyond it. First, she gave permission to those sailing on their own account to plunder any ships they fell in with; second, she gathered a fleet and a force no smaller than the previous one, and sent it out, declaring every coast fair game to its commanders.

Chapter 5 Queen Teuta's Pirates

Those who were sent out made their first attack on Elis and Messenia, for the Illyrians were always raiding these regions.

Because of the length of their coastline, and because the cities that held power in them lay inland, relief against the Illyrians' landings was always very slow and a long time in coming. As a result, the Illyrians overran and pillaged these regions whenever they liked, without fear.

On this occasion, however, when they reached Phoenice in Epirus, they put in for supplies.

There they fell in with some Gauls—about eight hundred in number—who were serving as mercenaries with the Epirotes and were stationed in Phoenice. They discussed the betrayal of the city with them, and when these Gauls agreed to the plan, they disembarked and at the first assault made themselves masters of the city and everyone in it, with the Gauls inside working with them.

When the Epirotes learned what had happened, they hurried to the rescue with a full levy. On reaching Phoenice, they encamped with the river that flows past the city in front of them, and for safety's sake tore up the planks of the bridge over it.

But when word reached them that Scerdilaidas was approaching by land with five thousand Illyrians through the pass near Antigoneia, they detached part of their force and sent it off to guard Antigoneia; meanwhile they passed the rest of their time carelessly, indulging without restraint in the produce of the countryside, and grew slack about their guard duty and outposts.

The Illyrians, perceiving both the division of their forces and their general carelessness, marched out by night, laid planks on the bridge, crossed the river safely, took up a strong position, and stayed there for the rest of the night.

When day came, and both sides drew up in front of the city, the Epirotes were beaten: many of them fell, still more were captured, and the rest escaped in the direction of the Atintanes.

Chapter 6 The Aetolians and Achaeans Support the Epirotes

The Epirotes, then, having met with such misfortunes and lost all the hopes they had placed in themselves, sent envoys to the Aetolians and to the Achaean League, begging with suppliant pleas for help.

These took pity on their plight and consented, and afterwards came to their aid, arriving at Helicranum.

The men who had seized Phoenice, having first joined up with Scerdilaidas and advanced to the place, encamped opposite the relief force, wishing to give battle.

But they found themselves hampered by the difficult terrain; and at the same time a letter arrived from Teuta, in which she said they ought to return home as quickly as possible, because some of the Illyrians had defected to the Dardani.

So, after ravaging Epirus, they made a truce with the Epirotes.

Under its terms they restored to them the free persons and the city for a ransom, but loaded the slaves and the rest of the spoils onto their boats; then some of them sailed away, while the troops under Scerdilaidas withdrew again by land through the pass near Antigoneia.

In doing so they instilled no small or ordinary alarm and fear in the Greeks who lived along the coasts.

For each of these peoples, seeing the most strongly fortified and most powerful city in Epirus so unexpectedly enslaved, no longer felt anxiety, as in earlier times, merely for their property in the countryside, but now for themselves and their cities.

The Epirotes, however, having been saved beyond all expectation, were so far from trying to take revenge on those who had wronged them, or to show gratitude to those who had helped them, that on the contrary they sent envoys to Teuta and made an alliance with the Illyrians, together with the Acarnanians, under which they cooperated with the Illyrians in the period that followed, while working against the Achaeans and the Aetolians.

By these actions they showed themselves to have behaved senselessly toward their benefactors at that time, and to have planned foolishly from the start in regard to their own affairs.

Chapter 7 A Band of Gallic Mercenaries

For that men, being human, should fall unexpectedly into some calamity is the fault not of the sufferers but of Fortune and of those who do the wrong; but that they should plunge themselves into the gravest disasters thoughtlessly and with their eyes open is, by common admission, the fault of the victims themselves.

That is why those who stumble through Fortune are met with pity, forgiveness, and assistance, whereas those who fail through their own bad judgment are followed by reproach and censure from sensible people.

And this is just what the Epirotes would rightly have met with from the Greeks at that time.

For, in the first place, who—mindful of the general reputation of the Gauls—would not have been wary of entrusting to them a prosperous city that offered so many openings for treachery?

And second, who would not have been on his guard against the known character of that particular band? For in the beginning they had been driven out of their own country, when their fellow countrymen banded together against them because they had betrayed their own friends and kinsmen; then, having been taken in by the Carthaginians because the latter were hard pressed by war, they

were brought into Agrigentum to garrison it—being at that time more than three thousand strong—and, when a dispute arose between the soldiers and their generals over pay, they at once set about plundering the city of the Agrigentines.

After that, when the Carthaginians once more brought them into Eryx for the same purpose, while the Romans were besieging the city, they attempted to betray both the city and those besieged in it along with them; and when this attempt failed, they deserted to the enemy, by whom they were again trusted—and then plundered the temple of Aphrodite of Eryx.

For this reason the Romans, having clearly recognized their impiety, made it their first priority, as soon as they had ended the war with the Carthaginians, to disarm them, put them aboard ships, and banish them from the whole of Italy.

These were the men the Epirotes made guardians of their democracy and their laws, and into whose hands they entrusted their most prosperous city. How, then, could they not reasonably be seen as the authors of their own misfortunes?

So much, then, for the folly of the Epirotes, and for the principle that sensible people should never bring in a garrison stronger than themselves—especially one of barbarians.

Chapter 8 Queen Teuta and Rome

This much I judged worth recording. Now the Illyrians had, even in earlier times, persistently preyed upon ships sailing from Italy.

During the period when they were operating around Phoenice, a good number of them broke away from the main fleet and fell upon many of the Italian merchants: some they merely robbed, others they slaughtered, and not a few of those they captured they carried off alive.

The Romans had until then turned a deaf ear to those who lodged complaints against the Illyrians; but now, when still more people came before the Senate on the matter, they appointed envoys to go to Illyria and look into the grievances described—Gaius and Lucius Coruncanius.

When the galleys returned to Teuta from Epirus, she was struck by the sheer quantity and the beauty of the spoils they brought back—for Phoenice was at that time by far the most prosperous of the cities of Epirus—and so she was doubly emboldened to press on with her depredations against the Greeks.

For the moment, however, she held back because of disturbances at home; but once she had quickly settled affairs with the Illyrians who had revolted, she laid siege to Issa, since it alone still refused to submit to her.

It was at this very time that the Roman envoys arrived. Granted an audience, they set out the wrongs that had been done to their citizens.

Throughout the entire discussion Teuta listened to them in an arrogant and thoroughly overbearing manner.

When they had finished speaking, she replied that, as a matter of public policy, she would try to see to it that no wrong was done to the Romans by the Illyrians; but that, as a private matter, it was not lawful for the kings of Illyria to bar the Illyrians from the profits to be had at sea.

The younger of the envoys, offended at this answer, spoke out with a frankness that was fitting in itself but in no way suited to the moment. For he said:

“Romans, Teuta, have a most excellent custom of using the state to punish private wrongs and to come to the aid of those who have been wronged.

We shall therefore endeavor, God willing, to compel you—and that soon and emphatically—to reform the royal practices of Illyria.”

Receiving this frankness with a woman’s temper and without reflection, she was so enraged at what had been said that, disregarding the rights established among all mankind, she sent men after the envoys as they sailed away with orders to kill the one who had spoken so frankly.

When news of this reached Rome, the Romans were incensed at the woman’s lawless act and at once set about their preparations, enrolling legions and assembling a fleet.

Chapter 9 Teuta Sends Out Another Fleet

When the sailing season came round, Teuta fitted out more galleys than before and sent them off once again toward the regions of Greece.

Some of them made their crossing by the open sea straight for Corcyra, while a portion put in at the harbor of Epidamnus—ostensibly to take on water and provisions, but in reality to make an attempt on the city by treachery.

The Epidamnians received them without suspicion and carelessly, and the Illyrians went in wearing nothing but their loincloths, as though to fetch water, but with daggers hidden in the water-jars. In this way they cut down the men guarding the gate and quickly seized the gatehouse.

When, according to plan, reinforcements arrived in force from the ships, they let these men in and easily held most of the walls.

The people of the city, though caught unprepared by the surprise, came to the rescue with spirit and fought it out, so that in the end the Illyrians, after holding their ground for a long while, were driven out of the city.

So on this occasion the Epidamnians, through their negligence, came near to losing their homeland, but through their courage came off unharmed and the wiser for the future.

The Illyrian commanders then put to sea in haste, joined the squadron that had sailed ahead, and made land at Corcyra. There they made a terrifying landing and set about besieging the city.

At this turn of events the Corcyraeans, hard-pressed and despairing of their whole situation, sent envoys to the Achaeans and the Aetolians—and along with them the Apollonians and Epidamnians did the same—begging them to come to their aid quickly and not to stand by while they were driven from their homes by the Illyrians.

Chapter 10 Illyrian Victories

The Achaeans and Aetolians, having heard the envoys and granted their plea, jointly manned the ten decked ships of the Achaeans, and within a few days had them fitted out and sailed for Corcyra, hoping to break the siege. But the Illyrians, having taken on seven decked ships supplied by the Acarnanians under the terms of their alliance, put out to meet them and engaged the Achaean vessels off the islands called Paxi.

Now the Acarnanians, and the Achaean ships posted opposite them, kept the fight even and came through the clashes unscathed, apart from wounds among the men themselves.

The Illyrians, however, lashed their own galleys together in groups of four and so closed with the enemy. They paid no regard to their own vessels but threw them in broadside and so worked to assist the enemy's ramming charges.

And when the enemy ships, having rammed and become locked in by the impact, were for the moment in difficulty—with the lashed-together galleys hanging on around their rams—the Illyrians then leapt onto the decks of the Achaean ships and overpowered them by sheer weight of numbers.

In this way they captured four four-banked ships, and sank one five-banked ship with all hands aboard —the ship on which Margos of Caryneia was sailing, a man who had served the common government of the Achaeans with complete integrity right up to his death.

Those who were fighting the Acarnanians, seeing the advantage the Illyrians had gained and trusting in their own swiftness, ran before the wind and made their withdrawal home in safety.

The Illyrian host, emboldened by their success, now pressed the siege with ease and full confidence.

The Corcyraeans, despairing of their whole situation after what had happened, held out under the siege only a little while longer and then came to terms with the Illyrians, accepting a garrison and, with the garrison, Demetrius of Pharos.

Once this had been arranged, the Illyrian commanders immediately put to sea; and, putting in at Epidamnus, set about besieging that city once again.

Chapter 11 Corcyra Submits To the Romans

At this same period, of the men holding the consulships, Gnaeus Fulvius set sail from Rome with two hundred ships, while Aulus Postumius set out with the land forces.

Gnaeus's first intention was to sail to Corcyra, supposing that he would still find the outcome of the siege undecided.

Although he came too late for that, he nevertheless sailed on to the island, wishing both to learn clearly what had happened concerning the city and to test the proposals being conveyed by Demetrius.

For Demetrius, being under suspicion and in fear of Teuta, was sending messages to the Romans, offering to hand over the city and to surrender the other affairs of which he was in charge.

The Corcyraeans, delighted at the arrival of the Romans, surrendered the Illyrian garrison with Demetrius's approval, and of their own accord, on being invited, gave themselves over wholeheartedly into the protection of Rome—judging this to be their one safeguard for the future against the lawlessness of the Illyrians.

The Romans, having received the Corcyraeans into their friendship, sailed for Apollonia, taking Demetrius as their guide for the remaining operations.

At the same time Postumius was ferrying his land forces across from Brundisium—some twenty thousand foot and about two thousand horse.

As soon as both forces had converged together upon Apollonia, and the Apollonians too had welcomed them and given themselves into Roman trust, they at once put to sea again on hearing that Epidamnus was under siege.

The Illyrians, learning of the Romans' approach, broke up the siege in complete disorder and fled.

The Romans, taking the Epidamnians too under their protection, advanced into the interior of Illyria, subduing the Ardiaei as they went.

When many envoys came to meet them—among them those from the Parthini, offering an unconditional surrender—they received these into their friendship; and likewise those who came from the Atintanes. They then advanced toward Issa, since that city too was being besieged by the Illyrians.

On reaching it and breaking the siege, they received the Issaeans as well into their protection.

In the course of their voyage along the coast they also stormed certain Illyrian cities; and at one of these, Nutria, they lost not only many soldiers but also some of the military tribunes and the quaestor.

They likewise captured twenty galleys that were carrying off the plunder from the countryside.

Of those besieging Issa, the men from Pharos were left unharmed for Demetrius's sake, while all the rest scattered and fled to Arbo.

Teuta herself, with a very few companions, escaped to Rhizon, a little town well fortified for strength, set back from the sea and lying right on the river Rhizon.

Having accomplished this, and having placed most of the Illyrians under Demetrius and invested him with great power, the Romans withdrew to Epidamnus with their fleet and their land army.

Chapter 12 Teuta Agrees to Pay Tribute to Rome

Gnaeus Fulvius, then, sailed back to Rome with the greater part of both the naval and the land forces.

Postumius stayed behind with forty ships, raised a legion from the surrounding cities, and wintered there, keeping watch over the Ardiaei and the other peoples who had given themselves into Roman trust.

About the spring season Teuta sent envoys to the Romans and concluded a treaty, in which she agreed to pay the tribute that had been imposed, to withdraw from all Illyria except for a few places, and—the crucial point, which most concerned the Greeks—not to sail beyond Lissus with more than two galleys, and those unarmed.

Once these terms had been settled, Postumius afterward dispatched envoys to the Aetolians and to the Achaean nation. On their arrival, they first explained the grounds for the war and for the crossing, then went through in order what had been accomplished and read out the treaty they had made with the Illyrians.

Having met with a fitting courtesy from each of the two nations, they then sailed back to Corcyra, having freed the Greeks from a considerable fear by means of the aforesaid treaty.

For it so happened that the Illyrians were at that time the common enemies not of some peoples only, but of all alike.

Such, then, was the first crossing of the Romans with an army into Illyria and these parts of Europe, along with their first involvement, by way of an embassy, in the affairs of Greece—and these were the causes that brought it about.

From this beginning the Romans straightaway sent yet other envoys to the Corinthians and to the Athenians; and it was then that the Corinthians first admitted the Romans to take part in the Isthmian Games.

Chapter 13 Jealousy At Rome of Hasdrubal In Spain

During this same period—for it was at this point that we broke off our account of affairs in Iberia—Hasdrubal was administering his command with prudence and practical skill, and was making great headway overall. In particular, by founding the town called Carthage by some and New Town by others, he contributed greatly to the interests of the Carthaginians, and this above all because of the

favorable position of the site, both for affairs in Iberia and for those in Libya. Of this place I shall, when I find a more suitable occasion, point out its location and the use it can serve for each of the two regions I have mentioned.

When the Romans saw this power now growing greater and more formidable, they were spurred to interest themselves in affairs in Iberia.

Finding that in the preceding period they had let themselves doze off and had allowed the Carthaginians to build up a great force, they tried to make up the lost ground as best they could.

For the moment, however, they did not venture either to dictate terms to the Carthaginians or to go to war with them, because the fear of the Gauls was hanging over their own affairs and they were all but daily expecting their attack.

So, having soothed and conciliated Hasdrubal, they then decided to take on the Gauls and bring matters to a decision against them; for they reckoned that, with such men poised on their flank, they would never be able—not merely to hold sway over the rest of Italy—but even to live in safety in their own homeland.

Accordingly, as soon as they had sent envoys to Hasdrubal and made a treaty with him—in which they passed over the rest of Iberia in silence, but stipulated that the Carthaginians were not to cross the river called the Ebro for the purpose of war—they at once launched their war against the Gauls in [...]

Chapter 14 Cisalpine Gaul

Italy. Concerning these Celts, it seems to me useful to give an account in summary form, so as to keep intact the proper purpose of my introductory survey in accordance with my original design, and to go back in time to the beginning—to the point at which the people just mentioned first occupied the country.

For I consider the history of these matters not only worth knowing and remembering, but absolutely essential, in order to learn what men and what places Hannibal afterward relied upon when he set himself to break the power of Rome.

First I must speak about the country—what sort it is and how it lies in relation to the rest of Italy. For in this way it will be easier to grasp the distinctive features of the events as well, once the peculiarities of the localities and of the land have been sketched out.

Italy as a whole is triangular in shape. One of its sides, the one inclined toward the east, is bounded by the Ionian strait and, continuous with it, by the Adriatic gulf; the side facing south and west is bounded by the Sicilian and Tyrrhenian seas.

These two sides, meeting one another, form the apex of the triangle—the promontory of Italy that juts out toward the south, which is called Cocynthus and divides the Ionian strait from the Sicilian sea.

The remaining side, which stretches along the north and the interior, is bounded throughout by the foothills of the Alps. This range takes its beginning from Massalia and the region above the Sardinian sea, and runs on continuously as far as the head of the whole Adriatic, falling short only by a little where it stops before reaching it.

Along this foothill range—which we must think of as, so to speak, the base of the triangle—there lie, to the south of it, plains that are the most northerly of all Italy, the very ones now under discussion, surpassing in fertility and extent any in Europe that have come within the scope of my history.

The overall shape, and that of the line enclosing these plains, is likewise triangular. The apex of this figure is formed by the meeting of the mountains called the Apennines and the Alpine range, not far from the Sardinian sea and above Massalia.

As for its sides: along the northern one, as I said above, the Alps themselves extend for two thousand two hundred stades, while along the southern one the Apennines extend for three thousand six hundred.

Chapter 15 Grain Production in Cisalpine Gaul

The seaboard of the Adriatic gulf serves as the base of the whole figure: the length of this base, from the city of Sena to the head of the gulf, is more than two thousand five hundred stades, so that the entire perimeter of the plains just described comes to little short of ten thousand stades. As for the fertility of the land, it is not even easy to put into words. Grain is so abundant in these regions that in our own day the Sicilian medimnus of wheat has often gone for four obols, of barley for two, and the metretes of wine for the same price as the barley.

There is, moreover, an utterly overwhelming abundance of panic-grass and millet among them. And as for the quantity of acorns produced by the oak woods scattered at intervals across the plains, one may best judge it from this: although a very great number of pigs are slaughtered in Italy, both for private households and for the provisioning of the armies, by far the fullest supply of them comes from these plains.

As to the cheapness and plenty of the various articles of food in detail, one could grasp it most precisely in this way: travellers passing through the country take their lodging at the inns, and do not haggle over the individual provisions, but simply ask how much the host charges per person.

Now for the most part the innkeepers take in their guests—on the understanding that everything needful is provided—for half an as, which is the fourth part of an obol; and only rarely do they exceed this.

As for the numbers of the men, the size and beauty of their bodies, and beyond that their boldness in war, all this will be plain to learn from the events of their history themselves.

On each of the two flanks of the Alps—the one inclining toward the river Rhone, the other toward the plains already mentioned—the hilly, fertile regions are inhabited: those facing the Rhone and the north by Gauls called Transalpine, and those facing the plains by the Taurisci and the Agones and several other barbarian peoples.

The Transalpine are so named not from a difference of race but from a difference of location: for "trans," translated, means "beyond"; and so they call those who live on the far side of the Alps the Transalpine.

Chapter 16 Rivers and Mountains in Northern Italy

The peaks, both because of their ruggedness and because of the great depth of the snow that lies there always, are utterly uninhabitable. The Apennine, from its beginning above Massalia and its junction with the Alps, is inhabited by the Ligurians—both the flank of it inclining toward the Tyrrhenian Sea and the flank toward the plains— along the sea as far as the city of Pisa, which lies first in Etruria toward the west, and inland as far as the territory of the Arretini.

Next come the Etruscans; and continuous with these, on both slopes of the mountains just mentioned, dwell the Umbrians.

After that the Apennine, keeping a distance of about five hundred stades from the Adriatic Sea, leaves the plains behind, bending off to the right, and running through the middle of the rest of Italy stretches down to the Sicilian Sea.

The remaining flat part of that flank runs down to the sea and the city of Sena.

The river Po—celebrated by the poets as the Eridanus—has its sources in the Alps, toward the apex rather of the figure just described, and descends into the plains, making its course toward the south.

But when it reaches the level country, it turns aside with its stream toward the east and flows through the plains; it makes its outlet by two mouths into the region of the Adriatic, and the larger part of the plain country is cut off by it toward the Alps and the head of the Adriatic.

It carries a volume of water inferior to none of the rivers in Italy, because all the streams that flow down toward the plains from the Alps and the Apennine mountains fall into it from every side.

It runs with its greatest and most beautiful flow around the rising of the Dog Star, swollen by the mass of snows melting on the mountains just mentioned.

From the sea it is navigable upstream, by the mouth called Olana, for nearly two thousand stades.

For at first, from its sources, it has a single channel, but it divides into two parts at the place called Trigaboli; of these, the one mouth is named the Padoa, the other the Olana.

On the latter lies a harbour that offers anchorage as safe as any on the Adriatic to those who put in there. Among the local people the river is called the Bodencus.

As for the other tales told about this river among the Greeks—I mean the stories of Phaethon and his fall, and the tears of the poplars, and the black-clad people living along the river, who, they say, still to this day wear such garments out of mourning for Phaethon— and indeed all such tragic material of this sort—we shall pass over for the present, because a detailed treatment of such matters does not really suit the character of this introductory survey.

But when a fitting occasion comes, we shall give them the notice they deserve, especially in view of Timaeus's ignorance about the regions just described.

Chapter 17 Gallic Settlements in the Valley of the Po

[...] except that these plains were in ancient times occupied by the Etruscans, at the same period as the so-called Phlegraean plains around Capua and Nola—plains which, just because they lay in many people's way and so became known, have won a great reputation for fertility.

For this reason those who record the dominions of the Etruscans should not direct their account to the land now held by them, but to the plains just mentioned and to the resources they drew from these places.

The Gauls, mingling with them because they lay alongside one another, and casting envious eyes on the beauty of the country, on a slight pretext unexpectedly attacked with a great army, drove the Etruscans out of the country around the Po, and took possession of the plains themselves.

So the first districts, those lying around the sources of the Po, the Laevi and the Lebecii settled; after these the Insubres, who were the greatest of their peoples; and next to these, along the river, the Cenomani.

The districts already adjoining the Adriatic were held by another, very ancient people: they are called the Veneti, differing little from the Gauls in customs and dress, but using a different language.

About them the tragic poets have made much talk and dealt out much marvel-mongering.

The districts beyond the Po, around the Apennine, were settled first by the Anares, and after them by the Boii; next to these, toward the Adriatic, the Lingones; and the last, on the sea, the Senones.

These, then, were the most notable of the peoples that took possession of the regions just described.

They lived in unwalled villages, without any other furnishings of life.

For because they slept on beds of straw, ate meat, and practiced nothing besides war and farming, they led simple lives, with no other science or craft known among them at all.

Each man's property consisted of livestock and gold, since these alone could, whatever the circumstances, be readily carried about everywhere and moved according to their own wishes.

They set the greatest store by their bands of companions, because among them the most feared and most powerful man was the one who was reckoned to have the most attendants and followers in his train.

Chapter 18 Early Conflicts between Gauls and Romans

In the beginning, then, they not only mastered the territory, but also made many of the neighbouring peoples their subjects, having overawed them by their daring.

Some time later, having defeated the Romans and those drawn up in battle alongside them, and pursuing the fugitives, they occupied Rome itself, except for the Capitol, three days after the battle.

But when a diversion arose—the Veneti invading their country—they then made terms with the Romans, handed back the city, and returned home.

After this they were caught up in internal wars; and some of those who lived in the Alps kept making raids and often gathered against them, comparing their own situation with the prosperity that had come to the others.

During this period the Romans recovered their own strength and once more set in order their affairs with the Latins.

When the Gauls came again to Alba with a great army, in the thirtieth year after the capture of the city, the Romans did not then dare to lead out their armies against them, because—the assault having come unexpectedly—they were caught off guard and had no time to assemble the mustered forces of their allies.

But again, on a further expedition twelve years later, when the Gauls were advancing with a great army, the Romans, having learned of it beforehand and gathered their allies, went out to meet them with great eagerness, hastening to engage and to risk all in a decisive battle.

But the Gauls, dismayed at their approach and falling into discord among themselves, when night came on made their withdrawal homeward in something very like a flight.

After this alarm they kept quiet for thirteen years; and after that, seeing the power of the Romans growing, they made [...]

Chapter 19 Gallic Wars

[...] [peace] and a treaty. Having kept firmly to it for thirty years, when a fresh movement arose among the Transalpine Gauls, the [Cisalpine Gauls], fearing that a heavy war might be stirred up against

them, turned the onslaught of the would-be invaders away from themselves by giving gifts and pleading their kinship, but incited them against the Romans and joined in the campaign themselves.

On this campaign they made their attack through Etruria, with the Etruscans joining forces with them, and after gathering a great quantity of plunder they returned safely from the Roman province.

But when they reached home and fell into strife over the greedy division of what they had taken, they destroyed the greater part both of the booty and of their own force.

This is the customary thing for the Gauls to do whenever they have seized something of their neighbours', and it comes about especially because of their senseless bouts of drunkenness and overeating.

After this, again in the fourth year, the Samnites and the Gauls came to an agreement together and drew up against the Romans in the territory of the Camertini, and destroyed many of them in the engagement.

On this occasion the Romans, stung to rivalry by the setback they had suffered, marched out a few days later and, engaging with all their armies in the territory of the Sentinates against the aforesaid enemy, killed most of them and forced the rest to flee headlong, each to his own land.

When ten years had again passed, the Gauls arrived with a great army to besiege the city of the Arretini.

The Romans came to the rescue and, engaging before the city, were defeated. In this battle Lucius the commander was killed, and they appointed Manius Curius in his place.

When he had sent envoys into Gaul concerning the prisoners, the Gauls broke the truce and killed the envoys.

When the Romans, in their anger, marched against them at once, the Gauls called the Senones met them and joined battle.

The Romans, prevailing over them in a pitched battle, killed most of them and drove out the rest, and became masters of all the country.

Into it they sent the first colony of Gaul, the city called Sena, named after the Gauls who had formerly inhabited it, about which we explained a little earlier, saying that it lies on the Adriatic at the edge of the plains around the Po.

Chapter 20 The Boii Attack the Romans and Lose

The Boii, seeing the Senones driven out, and fearing for themselves and their land that they might suffer the same fate, marched out in full force, having summoned the Etruscans.

Mustering near the lake called Vadimon, they drew up against the Romans.

In this battle most of the Etruscans were cut down, and only very few of the Boii escaped.

Nevertheless, in the very next year the same peoples came to an agreement once more, and, arming even those of their young men who had only just reached manhood, drew up against the Romans.

Utterly defeated in the battle, they barely brought themselves to yield, and by sending envoys to ask for a truce and a settlement they made a treaty with the Romans.

These events happened to fall in the third year before Pyrrhus's crossing into Italy, and the fifth before the destruction of the Gauls at Delphi.

For at this period fortune set, as it were, a kind of plague of war upon all the Gauls.

From the struggles just described two excellent advantages fell to the Romans: for, having grown accustomed to being cut down by the Gauls, they could neither see nor expect anything more dreadful than what had already been done to them; and so, having become perfect athletes in the works of war, they faced Pyrrhus, and, having crushed the daring of the Gauls at the right moment, thereafter fought without distraction—first against Pyrrhus for Italy, and after that against the Carthaginians for the supremacy over Sicily.

Chapter 21 War with Insubres and Boii and Gaesatae

After the defeats just described, the Gauls kept quiet for forty-five years, maintaining peace with the Romans.

But when those who had been eyewitnesses of those terrors had passed out of life with the passage of time, and a younger generation had come up—full of unreasoning passion, and with no experience or sight of any evil or any reverse— they began once again to disturb the established order—as naturally tends to happen—being roused to anger against the Romans on trifling pretexts and calling in the Gauls from the Alps.

At first these designs were carried on apart from the common people, by the leaders themselves, in secret.

And so, when the Transalpine Gauls arrived as far as Ariminum with an armed force, the masses of the Boii grew suspicious and fell into discord both against their own leaders and against the newcomers; they put to death their own kings, Atis and Galatus, and cut one another to pieces in pitched battles.

It was then that the Romans too, alarmed at the invasion, went out with an army; but on learning of the self-inflicted destruction of the Gauls, they withdrew home again.

In the fifth year after this alarm, when Marcus Lepidus was consul, the Romans parcelled out among their citizens the territory in Gaul called Picene, from which they had defeated and expelled the Gauls called the Senones, Gaius Flaminius having introduced this demagogic measure and policy—which

indeed we must say became for the Romans, so to speak, the first cause of the people's turn for the worse, and also the cause of the war that afterward arose for them against the aforesaid Gauls.

For many of the Gauls slipped into that undertaking, and especially the Boii, because their lands bordered on Roman territory, having come to believe that the Romans were now making war on them no longer for leadership and dominion, but for their total uprooting and destruction.

Chapter 22 Several Gallic Tribes Join Forces

Accordingly the greatest of the tribes—those of the Insubres and the Boii—at once came to an agreement and sent messengers to the Gauls living about the Alps and along the river Rhône, who are called Gaesatae because they serve for pay; for this is what the word properly means.

To their kings, Concolitanus and Aneroestes, they offered on the spot a large sum of gold, and for the future they pointed out the greatness of Rome's prosperity and the abundance of goods that would be theirs if they prevailed; and in this way they urged them on and incited them to the campaign against the Romans.

They persuaded them easily, since along with the arguments already mentioned they gave pledges of their own alliance and reminded them of the exploit of their own ancestors— in which those men, when they took the field, not only defeated the Romans in battle but, after the battle, seized Rome itself by direct assault; and having become masters of all it contained and having held the city itself for seven months, they at last handed it back willingly and as an act of grace, returning home with their gains unbroken and unharmed.

When the leaders among them heard this, they were so roused to the expedition that never before had more men, or more renowned, or more warlike, gone out from these regions of Gaul.

During this same period the Romans, partly from what they heard and partly from guessing at what was to come, fell into continual fears and disturbances to such a degree that at one time they were enrolling legions and laying in supplies of grain and provisions, and at another were even leading their forces out to the frontiers, as though the enemy were already in their land—though the Gauls had not yet stirred from their own country.

This movement also did not least help the Carthaginians toward securing their affairs in Iberia.

For the Romans, as has been said by us before, judging these matters the more pressing because they lay right at their side, were forced to overlook affairs in Iberia, being eager first to put matters with the Gauls on a good footing.

Therefore, having secured their position with the Carthaginians through the agreements with Hasdrubal, which we have just described, they set about with one accord at this time to deal with the enemy in Italy, considering it to their advantage to settle matters decisively with them.

Chapter 23 The Roman Forces

The Gaesatae Gauls, having assembled a costly and heavily armed force, came across the Alps to the river Po in the eighth year after the distribution of the land.

Now the people of the Insubres and the Boii stood nobly by their original designs, but the Veneti and the Cenomani, after the Romans had sent envoys, chose to ally themselves with the Romans.

On this account the kings of the Gauls were compelled to leave behind part of their force to guard their country against the threat from these tribes.

They themselves set out confidently with the whole army, making their march toward Etruria, with about fifty thousand foot and about twenty thousand horse and chariots.

As soon as the Romans heard that the Gauls had crossed the Alps, they sent out the consul Lucius Aemilius with a force toward Ariminum to watch for the enemy's advance by that route, and one of the praetors into Etruria.

For the other of the consuls, Gaius Atilius, happened to have already gone out to Sardinia with his legions.

All those in Rome were terrified, supposing that a great and fearful danger was bearing down on them. And they felt this naturally, since the old fear of the Gauls still sat deep in their souls.

So, with this thought in mind, they partly gathered and partly enrolled legions, and ordered those of the allies who were ready to stand prepared.

In general they directed their subjects to submit registers of those of military age, eager to learn the total number of the force available to them.

And of grain, missiles, and the other equipment for war they made such great provision as no one could remember before.

Everything was supplied to them readily and from every quarter.

For the inhabitants of Italy, struck with terror at the Gauls' advance, no longer thought of themselves as allies of the Romans, nor that the war was about Roman supremacy, but each people reckoned that the danger was being brought against themselves and their own city and territory. They therefore obeyed the orders readily.

Chapter 24 Forces Available to the Romans

In order that it may become clear, from the facts themselves, how great were the undertakings that Hannibal dared to attack, and against how mighty a power he recklessly set his eyes—yet succeeded in his purpose so far as to involve the Romans in the greatest disasters—

I must state the preparation and the size of the force available to them at that time.

With the consuls there had marched out four Roman legions, each having five thousand two hundred foot and three hundred horse.

The allies with each of the two consuls were, together, thirty thousand foot and two thousand horse.

Of the Sabines and Etruscans who came to Rome's aid for that occasion there were about four thousand horse and more than fifty thousand foot.

These they gathered and posted in advance toward Etruria, appointing a praetor as their commander.

The Umbrians and Sarsinatae who inhabit the Apennines were assembled to the number of twenty thousand, and with these were twenty thousand Veneti and Cenomani. These they stationed on the frontiers of Gaul, so that by invading the territory of the Boii they might in turn draw off the tribes that had marched out. These, then, were the armies posted to guard the country.

In Rome itself there remained, held ready against the chances of war and serving as a reserve, twenty thousand foot of the Romans themselves and with them one thousand five hundred horse, and of the allies thirty thousand foot and two thousand horse.

Registers had been submitted of: the Latins, eighty thousand foot and five thousand horse; the Samnites, seventy thousand foot and with them seven thousand horse; and likewise of the Iapygians and Messapians together, fifty thousand foot and sixteen thousand horse; of the Lucanians, thirty thousand foot and three thousand horse; of the Marsi, Marrucini, Ferentani, and also Vestini, twenty thousand foot and four thousand horse.

Moreover, in Sicily and Tarentum two legions were held in reserve, each of about four thousand two hundred foot and two hundred horse.

The total number of Romans and Campanians enrolled was about two hundred and fifty thousand foot, and of horse, in addition to twenty thousand there were a further three thousand.

So that the grand total of the forces stationed in advance to defend Rome was more than one hundred and fifty thousand foot, and about six thousand horse; while the whole multitude of those able to bear arms, both the Romans themselves and the allies, was over seven hundred thousand foot and up to seventy thousand horse.

Against these Hannibal invaded Italy with fewer than twenty thousand men. But on these matters the narrative that follows will make it possible to understand them more clearly.

Chapter 25 Defeat of the Romans Near Faesulae

The Gauls, having descended into Etruria, advanced through the country, plundering it fearlessly; and since no one opposed them, they finally pushed on against Rome itself.

When they were already near a city called Clusium, three days' march from Rome, news was brought that the Roman forces stationed in Etruria were following close on their rear and were catching up with them.

On hearing this, they turned back to meet them, eager to engage.

When the two armies had drawn near each other, already about sunset, both then encamped at a moderate distance apart and bivouacked.

When night came on, the Gauls lit fires and left their cavalry behind, instructing them that at daybreak, once they had become visible to the enemy, they should withdraw along the same track.

They themselves made a secret withdrawal toward the city of Faesulae and took up position there, intending both to wait for their own cavalry and to harass the enemy's advance by surprise.

When day came, the Romans, seeing the cavalry alone and supposing the Gauls had fled, eagerly pursued the cavalry along the line of their withdrawal.

As they drew near the enemy, the Gauls rose up and fell upon them, and at the outset the struggle on both sides was fierce.

In the end, as the Gauls had the upper hand in daring and in numbers, it came about that no fewer than six thousand of the Romans were killed and the rest fled; most of these withdrew to a certain strong position and stayed there.

The Gauls at first set about besieging them; but being in a wretched state from the night's march and their hardship and exhaustion, they turned to rest and recovery, leaving a guard of their own cavalry around the hill, intending on the following day to besiege those who had taken refuge there, unless they should surrender of their own accord.

Chapter 26 Aemilius Deters the Gauls

At this time Lucius Aemilius, who was posted in the regions along the Adriatic, having heard that the Gauls had invaded by way of Etruria and were drawing near to Rome, came to the rescue in all haste, arriving fortunately at the critical moment.

When he had encamped close to the enemy, those who had taken refuge on the hill, seeing his fires and grasping what had happened, quickly recovered their courage and sent some of their men, unarmed, by night through the woods to report to the general what had occurred.

He, having heard them out and seeing that no other course of deliberation was left to him in the present circumstances, ordered the tribunes to lead out the infantry at daybreak, while he himself took the cavalry and led the way for the force, making his march toward the aforementioned hill.

The leaders of the Gauls, observing the fires during the night and reckoning that the enemy was at hand, held a council.

At it King Aneroestes put forward the view that, since they had become masters of so much booty—for the quantity of captives and cattle, and also of the baggage they had, was, it seems, beyond reckoning—they ought therefore no longer to take risks nor stake everything, but should withdraw home in safety; and once they had disposed of all this and made themselves unencumbered, they should then, if it seemed good, attack the Romans' state again in full force.

Having resolved to deal with the present situation according to Aneroestes' opinion, they took this decision in the night, broke camp before daylight, and advanced along the coast through the country of the Etruscans.

Lucius, taking up from the hill the surviving part of the army together with his own forces, judged that it was in no way to his advantage to risk a pitched battle, but rather to watch for favorable times and places as he followed, in case he might somewhere be able to harm the enemy or strip away part of the booty.

Chapter 27 Atilius Meets the Gauls

At this same time the consul Gaius Atilius, having sailed down from Sardinia with his legions to Pisae, was advancing with his force toward Rome, making his march toward the enemy from the opposite direction.

When the Gauls were already near Telamon in Etruria, their foragers fell in with the advance party from Gaius's force and were captured; and on being questioned they made clear to the general what had taken place and reported the presence of both armies, indicating that the Gauls were very close at hand and that behind them came the forces of Lucius.

He, partly surprised at this news and partly becoming hopeful at the thought that the Gauls had been caught in the middle on the march, ordered the tribunes to draw up the legions and advance at a walk to the front, as far as the ground would allow a frontal advance.

He himself, having opportunely spotted a hill lying above the road, beneath which the Gauls had to march, took his cavalry and pressed on, eager to seize the crest first and to be the first to open the action, convinced that in this way he would win for himself the greatest share of the credit for the outcome.

The Gauls at first, unaware of the presence of Atilius's force and supposing from what was happening that Aemilius's cavalry had marched around during the night and were seizing the positions ahead of them, immediately sent out their own cavalry and some of the light troops to contest the ground about the hill.

Chapter 28 The Gauls Defeated On Their Way Home

But on quickly learning of Gaius's presence from one of the prisoners who had been brought in, they hastily drew up their infantry, forming them up to face both ways at once—both to the rear and to the front; for they knew that one army was following them, while they expected to meet another head-on, judging both from the reports reaching them and from what was happening at that very moment. Aemilius's men, who had heard of the legions' landing at Pisae but did not yet expect them to be drawing near, now recognized clearly, from the struggle around the hill, that their own forces had come quite close.

Therefore they at once sent out the cavalry to help those fighting it out on the hill, while they themselves, arranging the infantry in the customary order, advanced against the enemy.

The Gauls stationed the so-called Gaesatae from the Alps facing the rear, where they expected Aemilius's men, and behind these the Insubres; and facing the front they posted the Taurisci and the Boii who dwell on this side of the Po, in the position opposite to the others, looking toward the advance of Gaius's legions.

Their wagons and chariots they placed outside each wing, and the booty they collected onto one of the neighboring hills, setting a guard around it.

With the Gallic army thus made double-fronted, the formation proved to be not only striking in appearance but also effective.

Now the Insubres and Boii drew up wearing their trousers and their light cloaks; but the Gaesatae, out of love of glory and bravado, threw these off and took their stand at the front of the force naked, with nothing but their weapons, supposing they would thus be most effective, since some of the ground was overgrown with brambles that would catch on clothing and hamper the use of their weapons.

At first the action at the hill itself was the whole of the fighting, plainly visible to all, since so great a number of cavalry from each army had fallen in together in confused combat.

In this engagement it happened that the consul Gaius, fighting recklessly in hand-to-hand combat, lost his life, and his head was carried off to the kings of the Gauls; while the Roman cavalry, after struggling stoutly, finally prevailed over both the position and the enemy.

After this, when the infantry forces were now close upon one another, the event that took place was remarkable and astonishing—not only to those present at that very moment, but also to those able afterward to bring it before their own eyes from the accounts of it.

Chapter 29 A Peculiar and Surprising Battle

This was the way the engagement unfolded. In the first place, since the battle was made up of three separate forces, it is clear that the spectacle, as well as the actual fighting of the troops drawn up in this

fashion, must have looked strange and out of the ordinary.

In the second place, one might well be uncertain—both now and at the time, for anyone present at the very moment—whether the Gauls held the most perilous position of all, with the enemy pressing in on them from both directions at once, or, on the contrary, the most advantageous one: fighting against both forces simultaneously, yet securing their own safety from either side by means of the men at their backs, and, most important of all, having every avenue of retreat to the rear cut off, along with any hope of survival should they give way. For this is precisely the special quality of a formation that faces two ways.

Such, indeed, is the advantage of a double-fronted line of battle.

As for the Romans, on the one hand they were emboldened by having caught the enemy in the middle and surrounded them on every side; on the other hand they were unnerved by the splendor and the din of the Gallic army.

For the number of horn-blowers and trumpeters was beyond counting, and when, along with these, the whole army joined in raising its war cry together, the clamor that arose was so great and of such a character that not only the trumpets and the men, but even the surrounding country, seemed to echo back and to be giving off a voice of its own.

Terrifying too were the appearance and the gestures of the naked warriors who stood in the front line, men in the very prime of their strength and conspicuous for their fine physique.

And all those who held the foremost companies were adorned with gold torques and armlets.

Chapter 30 Great Slaughter of the Gauls

At the sight of all this the Romans were on the one hand dismayed, but on the other, drawn on by the hope of profit, they were spurred on twice as keenly toward the danger. But as soon as the javelin-throwers advanced in front of the Roman legions, in keeping with their custom, and let fly with vigorous and densely massed volleys of missiles, the Gauls in the rear ranks found their cloaks and trousers of great use to them; but for the naked men standing in front, the outcome turned out contrary to their expectation, and what happened caused them great difficulty and helplessness.

For since the Gallic shield could not cover the whole man, the more the bodies were exposed and the larger they were, the more readily the missiles found their mark.

In the end, unable to ward off the men hurling the javelins because of the distance, and overwhelmed by the multitude of falling missiles, they were utterly distressed and at a loss in their situation. Some of them, out of rage and recklessness, flung themselves blindly upon the enemy and, giving themselves up willingly, perished; others, drawing back step by step toward their own friends and plainly showing their cowardice, threw the men behind them into disorder.

In this way the spirit of the Gaesatae was broken down by the javelin-throwers.

But the main body of the Insubres, Boii, and Taurisci—once the Romans had taken back their own javelin-throwers and the companies charged at them—clashed with the enemy and put up a stubborn hand-to-hand fight.

For though they were being cut down, they held firm in spirit on equal terms, inferior only in this one respect—both as a whole and man for man—namely in the construction of their weapons.

The Roman shields, that is, made a great difference for protection, and their swords for action [...], while the Gallic sword could only deliver a downward cut.

And when the Roman cavalry charged in from higher ground against the flank, riding down from the hill and pressing the attack vigorously, then the Gallic infantry were cut to pieces right where they stood in their line, while their cavalry took to flight.

Chapter 31 Aemilius Returns Victorious

About forty thousand of the Gauls were killed, and no fewer than ten thousand taken prisoner, among them one of their kings, Concolitanus.

The other king, Aneroestes, fled with a few men to a certain place and there laid hands on himself and on his close companions.

The Roman general gathered the spoils and sent them to Rome, and restored the plunder to its rightful owners.

Then, taking up his legions and marching along the very edge of Liguria, he invaded the territory of the Boii. After satisfying the legions' appetite for plunder, within a few days he returned with his forces to Rome.

He adorned the Capitol with the standards and the torques—a torque being the gold collar that the Gauls wear around their necks—while the rest of the spoils and the captives he used for his own entry into the city and for the decoration of his triumph.

So this, the most formidable Gallic onslaught, was destroyed in this manner—an invasion that had hung over all the Italians, and especially the Romans, as a great and fearful danger.

Emboldened by this success, the Romans came to hope that they would be able to drive the Gauls out of the regions around the Po altogether. They therefore sent out both of the consuls appointed for the following year, Quintus Fulvius and Titus Manlius, together with their forces and large-scale preparations, against the Gauls.

Chapter 32 Victory Over the Insubres

These consuls, by terrifying the Boii in a sudden assault, forced them to put themselves under Rome's protection; but for the remainder of the campaign, with extraordinary rainstorms setting in, and on top of that an outbreak of plague befalling them, they accomplished nothing in the end. After these men, Publius Furius and Gaius Flaminius were appointed and once again invaded Gallic territory, marching through the country of the Anares, who happen to live not far from Massalia.

Having won this people over to friendship, they crossed into the land of the Insubres at the confluence of the rivers Adua and Po.

After suffering some losses both during the crossing and around their camp, they stayed put for the moment; but afterward they made a truce and withdrew from the region by agreement.

Then, after marching around for several days and crossing the river Clusius, they came into the country of the Cenomani, and taking these people along as allies, they invaded once more—descending from the Alpine regions into the plains of the Insubres—and laid waste the land and plundered their settlements.

The chiefs of the Insubres, seeing that the Romans' purpose was unshakable, decided to put their fortune to the test and to risk a full, decisive battle against them.

So they gathered all their available forces in one place, took down the golden standards known as "the immovables" from the temple of Athena, made the rest of their preparations as needed, and then, with confidence and in formidable array, encamped opposite the enemy, numbering some fifty thousand men.

The Romans, on the one hand, seeing that they were far outnumbered by their opponents, wished to make use of the forces of the Gauls allied with them; but on the other hand, reflecting on Gallic faithlessness and on the fact that they were about to fight against men of the same race as these auxiliaries, they were wary of sharing such a moment and such an undertaking with men of that sort.

In the end, then, they themselves remained on their own side of the river, while the Gauls who were with them they sent across to the far bank, and then tore up the bridges over the stream—at once securing themselves against those allies, and at the same time leaving themselves only one hope of survival, namely in victory, since the aforementioned river lay impassable at their backs.

Having done this, they were ready to risk the battle.

Chapter 33 Tactics Against the Gauls

The Romans are thought to have handled this battle intelligently, for the military tribunes showed how the fighting ought to be conducted, both collectively and by each man individually.

For they had observed from earlier engagements that the whole Gallic race is most fearsome in its first charge, in its fury, so long as that fury is still fresh; and that their swords, by their construction, as has

been said before, have only one effective downward stroke—the first—but after that they immediately lose their edge, bending both lengthwise and crosswise so badly that, unless the men are given time to straighten them by setting them against the ground with the foot, their second blow is utterly useless.

So the tribunes distributed the spears of the triarii, who stood in reserve behind, to the men in the front companies, and ordered them to use their swords only after switching weapons; and they engaged the Gauls in pitched battle, facing them head-on.

As soon as the Gauls made their swords useless by their first downward strokes against the spears, the Romans closed to hand-to-hand range and rendered the Gauls helpless, robbing them of their slashing style of fighting—which is peculiar to Gallic warfare—since their sword has no point for thrusting at all.

The Romans, by contrast, used their swords not for cutting but for thrusting, holding them straight, since the point on them is effective; and striking at the chests and faces and landing blow upon blow, they killed the greater part of those drawn up against them, thanks to the foresight of the tribunes.

For the consul Flaminius is thought not to have made good use of the engagement described above. By forming his line right along the very brow of the river, he ruined what is distinctive about Roman tactics, leaving no room for the companies to fall back step by step.

For if the men had been pressed back even slightly from their ground during the battle, they would have had to throw themselves into the river, all because of their commander's blunder.

Nevertheless, by their own valor they won a decisive victory, as I have said, and after taking abundant plunder and no small amount of spoils, they returned to Rome.

Chapter 34 Capture of Mediolanum and End of the War

In the following year, when the Gauls sent an embassy seeking peace and promising to do anything, the newly appointed consuls Marcus Claudius and Gnaeus Cornelius pressed hard that no peace be granted them.

The Gauls, having failed in this and resolving to put their last hopes to the test, once more set about hiring about thirty thousand of the Gaesatae Gauls who live around the Rhone. Having taken these into service, they kept them at the ready and awaited the enemy's attack.

The Roman generals, when the season came, took up their forces and led them into the country of the Insubres.

Arriving there and encamping around the city of Acerrae, which lies between the Po and the Alpine mountains, they laid siege to it.

The Insubres, unable to bring relief because the favorable positions had already been seized, but eager to break the siege of Acerrae, sent a portion of their force across the Po into the country of the Anares and laid siege to the place called Clastidium. When news of what was happening reached the generals,

Marcus Claudius took the cavalry and some of the infantry and hurried off, eager to relieve the besieged.

The Gauls, learning of the enemy's arrival, raised the siege, came out to meet them, and drew up for battle.

When the Romans, with the cavalry alone, boldly charged them in a sudden assault, they held out at first; but afterward, with the enemy surrounding them both at the rear and on the flank, they were hard-pressed in the fighting and were finally routed by the cavalry alone.

Many of them fell into the river and were destroyed by the current, while the greater number were cut down by the enemy.

The Romans also captured Acerrae, full of grain, after the Gauls withdrew to Mediolanum, which is the principal stronghold of the Insubres' territory.

Gnaeus followed close on their heels and made a sudden assault on Mediolanum; at first the Gauls kept quiet, but when he started back again toward Acerrae, they sallied out, boldly fell upon his rearguard, killed many men, and even forced a part of his force to flee, until Gnaeus called back the men from the vanguard and urged them to stand and engage the enemy.

The Romans, obeying their general, fought stoutly against those pressing on them.

The Gauls, on account of their present success, held their ground confidently for a while, but before long they were routed and fled to the foothills.

Chapter 35 Character of the Gauls

Gnaeus pursued them, ravaged the countryside, and took Mediolanum by storm. When this happened, the chiefs of the Insubres, despairing of any hope of safety, surrendered everything they had to the Romans.

Such, then, was the outcome of the war against the Gauls. In terms of the desperate fury and daring of the men who fought it, and further in terms of the battles and the number of those killed and engaged in them, it was inferior to none recorded in history; but in terms of strategic planning and the lack of judgment in the conduct of its individual stages, it was utterly contemptible—because not the greater part, but absolutely everything the Gauls did was governed by passion rather than by reason.

Having observed for myself how these people were driven out of the plains around the Po not long afterward—except for a few localities lying right at the foot of the Alps—I decided that I ought not to leave unrecorded either their original invasion, or their subsequent actions, or their final expulsion, believing it proper to the work of history to bring such episodes of Fortune into memory and to hand them down to those who come after, so that our descendants may not be utterly ignorant of these things and thus be terrified by the sudden and unexpected attacks of the barbarians, but rather,

bearing in mind to some degree how short-lived and how easily broken the barbarian host is, may withstand their onslaught—those who face danger with judgment—and may put all their own hopes to the test before yielding any of what is essential.

For I believe that those who recorded for us, and handed down to memory, the Persians' invasion of Greece and the Gauls' invasion of Delphi contributed in no small way—indeed greatly—to the struggles waged for the common freedom of the Greeks.

For no one, dismayed by an abundance of supplies or arms or men, would abandon his last hope—that of fighting to the end for his own land and homeland—if he kept before his eyes the astonishing nature of what happened then, and remembered how many myriads of men, what daring, and how vast the preparations were that the resolve and power of those who faced danger with judgment and calculation brought to nothing.

And since the dread of the Gauls has dismayed the Greeks repeatedly, not only in ancient times but even down to our own day, I was all the more moved to give an account of these matters—summary in form, yet reaching back to the beginning.

Chapter 36 Hasdrubal Dies and Hannibal Succeeds Him

Now Hasdrubal, the Carthaginian general—for it was from his affairs that we digressed in our narrative—died after governing the affairs of Iberia for eight years. He was treacherously murdered at night in his own quarters by a certain man of Gallic stock, in revenge for private wrongs.

He had brought about no small but a great advance in the fortunes of Carthage, not so much through his military exploits as through his dealings with the native princes.

The Carthaginians then conferred the command in Iberia on Hannibal, despite his youth, on account of the shrewdness and daring that his conduct had already begun to display.

As soon as he took up the command, it was clear from his designs that he intended to make war on Rome—and this in fact he soon did, after waiting only a very short time.

From this period onward, then, relations between the Carthaginians and the Romans were marked by mutual suspicion and friction.

For the Carthaginians were plotting, eager to take their revenge for their losses around Sicily, while the Romans were distrustful, observing what the Carthaginians were planning.

From all this it was clear to anyone who judged the situation correctly that the two peoples would be at war with each other before long.

Chapter 37 Greece At This Time

At the same period the Achaeans and King Philip, together with their other allies, were embarking on the war against the Aetolians known as the Social War.

Now, having carried our account of the affairs of Sicily and Libya, and of what followed, continuously through the preliminary portion of the work down to the beginning of the Social War and of the second war between Rome and Carthage—the one most people call the Hannibalic War—and since from the outset it was my declared intention to make this period the starting point of my own composition, it would be fitting to set those matters aside and turn to events in Greece, so that, having brought my preliminary survey from every quarter to the same level and the same point in time, I may then at last begin the demonstrative history proper.

For I have not undertaken, as my predecessors did, to record particular sets of events—Greek history, say, or Persian—but rather the events in all the known parts of the world at once, because the times we live in have contributed something distinctive toward this aspect of my plan, of which I shall give a clearer account elsewhere.

It would therefore be proper, even before the main construction of the work, to touch briefly on the most prominent and best-known nations and regions of the inhabited world.

Now as for the affairs of Asia and Egypt, it will be enough to begin our account of them from the period just mentioned, since the earlier history of those countries has been published by many writers and is familiar to everyone, and since in our own day nothing so unusual or unexpected has befallen them at the hands of fortune as to require any reference back to their past.

But as for the Achaean nation and the royal house of Macedonia, it will be appropriate to go back briefly in time—since the latter has now been utterly extinguished, while in the case of the Achaeans, as I said above, there has occurred in our own time an extraordinary growth and a coming-together in unity.

For although many men in past times had set out to bring the Peloponnesians together for their common advantage, and not one had succeeded—because each was exerting himself not for the freedom of all but for his own personal power—yet in our own day this enterprise has reached such progress and completion that there is among them not merely an alliance and friendly partnership in their affairs, but they also use the same laws, weights, measures, and currency, and in addition the same magistrates, councillors, and judges. In general, the only respect in which the whole Peloponnese falls short of being a single city is that its inhabitants are not enclosed within one and the same wall; in all other respects, both collectively and city by city, their institutions are nearly identical.

Chapter 38 Origin of the Name “Achaean”

First, it is worth learning how and in what way the name of the Achaeans came to prevail over all the Peloponnesians.

For those who from the beginning bore this name as their ancestral title are not distinguished by any greater extent of territory and cities, nor by greater wealth, nor by the valor of their men.

The Arcadian people, and likewise the Laconian, far surpass them in numbers of men and in extent of land; and indeed neither of these would ever consent to yield the first place in courage to any of the Greeks.

How then, and for what reason, are these peoples and the rest of the Peloponnesians now content to share both the constitution and the name of the Achaeans?

It would clearly be quite inappropriate to call it the work of chance—that is a feeble answer; rather, one must seek a cause, for without a cause nothing, whether it seems to follow reason or to defy it, can be brought about. The cause, in my opinion, is something like this.

Nowhere could one find a system and a principle of equality before the law, of free speech, and in a word of genuine democracy, more pure than that which exists among the Achaeans.

This constitution found some of the Peloponnesians willing converts of their own accord, and won over many by persuasion and argument; and those whom it constrained at the right moment it presently brought, even so, to acquiesce in it.

For since it reserved no special advantage for the original members, but granted equal rights to all newcomers alike, it swiftly attained its purpose, using the two most powerful aids: equality and humane treatment.

This, then, must be regarded as the originating and contributing cause of the Peloponnesians' coming to share one purpose and establishing the prosperity they now enjoy.

This principle and this distinctive character of their constitution, as just described, had existed among the Achaeans in earlier times as well.

This could be shown by many other proofs, but for the present it will suffice, for the sake of confidence, to bring forward one or two pieces of evidence.

Chapter 39 The First Achaean League

At the time when, in the regions of Italy then called Magna Graecia, the meeting-houses of the Pythagoreans were burned down, there followed, as was natural, a complete upheaval of the political order, since the leading men of each city had thus been destroyed in so unexpected a fashion; and the Greek cities in those parts came to be filled with slaughter, factional strife, and confusion of every kind.

At that time, when embassies came from most parts of Greece to try to settle these disorders, the cities turned to the Achaeans and to their good faith for deliverance from the evils that beset them.

And it was not only on this occasion that they showed their approval of the Achaean way; some time later they set out wholeheartedly to become imitators of their constitution.

For the people of Croton, Sybaris, and Caulonia, after inviting one another and reaching a common understanding, first established a shared temple and precinct of Zeus Homarios, in which they held their meetings and deliberations, and then, adopting the customs and laws of the Achaeans, undertook to use them and to govern their state accordingly. But under the pressure of the despotic power of Dionysius of Syracuse, and likewise of the domination of the neighboring barbarians, they were hindered, and abandoned these arrangements—not willingly, but under compulsion.

Later, when the Spartans had suffered their unexpected defeat at the battle of Leuctra, and the Thebans had unexpectedly laid claim to the leadership of Greece, there was great uncertainty among all the Greeks, and especially among the two peoples just named, since the one would not admit it had been beaten, and the other did not believe it had won.

Nevertheless, in their dispute the Thebans and the Spartans entrusted the points at issue to the Achaeans alone of all the Greeks—not with any regard to their power, for at that time they had perhaps the smallest power of any people in Greece, but chiefly out of regard for their good faith and their general integrity. For that was, by common consent, the reputation everyone then held of them.

At that period, then, these qualities of principle existed among them only in bare form; but no achievement or notable action tending to the growth of their own power came about, because they were unable to produce a leader worthy of their principles.

Chapter 40 Unification of the Peloponnese

Whenever someone gave promise of it, he was overshadowed and held back, at one time by the dominance of the Spartans, at another, still more, by that of the Macedonians. But when at last, in due time, the nation found leaders of sufficient worth, it quickly made its own power manifest by accomplishing that most glorious of works—the concord of the Peloponnesians.

As the originator and prime mover of the whole undertaking we must reckon Aratus of Sicyon; as the champion who carried the work through to completion, Philopoemen of Megalopolis; and as the man who secured its lasting permanence for a time, Lycortas and those who shared his policy.

What each of these men did, and how, and at what times, I shall try to make clear, always giving my attention to it in the manner appropriate to the narrative.

As for the measures carried out by Aratus, I shall mention them in summary both now and again later on, because he himself composed thoroughly truthful and lucid memoirs of his own deeds; but for the others I shall give a more detailed and discriminating account. I suppose the easiest course for me, and the one that will make the subject easiest for my readers to follow, will be to take my starting point from the period when, the Achaean nation having been broken up city by city by the kings of Macedon, a new beginning was made and the cities once more drew together toward one another.

From that time the nation, growing continuously, advanced to the state of completion in which it stood in our own day, about which I have just spoken in some detail.

Chapter 41 The Second League

It was the 124th Olympiad when the people of Patrae and Dyme first began to act in concert, the period in which Ptolemy son of Lagus, Lysimachus, and also Seleucus and Ptolemy Ceraunus departed this life—for all these died around the Olympiad just mentioned.

Now in the times before this, the situation of the aforesaid nation was roughly as follows.

They had been ruled by kings ever since Tisamenus, who was the son of Orestes and who, having been expelled from Sparta on the return of the Heraclidae, took possession of the regions around Achaea; from him they were ruled by kings of the same line in unbroken succession down to Ogyges. After that, becoming dissatisfied with the sons of Ogyges because they ruled them not constitutionally but despotically, they changed their government into a democracy.

Thereafter, throughout the following times down to the supremacy of Alexander and Philip, their fortunes varied with circumstances, now one way, now another; but their common government, as we have said, they tried to maintain as a democracy.

This league consisted of twelve cities, which still survive today, except for Olenus and for Helice, which was swallowed up by the sea before the events at Leuctra.

These cities are: Patrae, Dyme, Pharae, Tritaea, Leontium, Aegium, Aegeira, Pellene, Bura, and Caryneia.

But in the period after the time of Alexander and before the Olympiad just mentioned, they fell into such discord and ill condition—chiefly through the agency of the kings of Macedon—that all the cities became separated from one another and pursued interests opposed to each other.

As a result, some of them came to have garrisons imposed on them by Demetrius and Cassander, and afterwards by Antigonus Gonatas, while others fell under the rule of tyrants; for this last king seems to have planted more absolute rulers among the Greeks than anyone else.

But around the 124th Olympiad, as I said above, they changed their minds and began once again to act in concert. This was at the time of Pyrrhus's crossing into Italy.

The first to form the union were the peoples of Dyme, Patrae, Tritaea, and Pharae; and for this reason there happens to be no monument recording the federation of these cities.

After this, in about the fifth year, the people of Aegium expelled their garrison and joined the federation; next to them the people of Bura, after killing their tyrant.

At the same time the people of Caryneia were restored to it. For Iseas, then tyrant of Caryneia, seeing that the garrison had been driven out of Aegium and that the despot in Bura had been destroyed by Margos and the Achaeans, and seeing himself on the point of being attacked from every side, laid down his power and, after receiving guarantees from the Achaeans for his safety, attached his city to the Achaean confederation.

Chapter 42 Policy of the Achaean League

For what reason, then, did I go back to these times? First, so that it might become clear how, at what periods, and which of the original Achaeans were the first to undertake again the formation of the present league; and second, so that their guiding policy might be confirmed not merely by my own assertion but by the facts themselves—namely, that the Achaeans always held to one and the same principle.

In accordance with this principle, holding out the equality before the law and the freedom of speech that prevailed among them, and continually making war on and crushing those who, whether on their own account or with the help of the kings, were enslaving their respective homelands, they accomplished this work in this manner and with this aim—partly by their own efforts, partly with the help of their allies.

For indeed whatever was achieved toward this end through those allies in later times must be credited to the deliberate policy of the Achaeans.

For though they took part in many enterprises with others, and in very many and very fine ones with the Romans, they never at any time sought from their successes any private advantage for themselves; rather, in exchange for all the zeal they offered their allies, they bargained for nothing but the freedom of each people and the common concord of the Peloponnesians.

But it will be possible to grasp these things more clearly from the actual record of their deeds.

Chapter 43 Margos, the First Sole Strategus

For the first twenty-five years, the cities I have named governed themselves jointly, choosing in rotation a common secretary and two generals.

After this they decided instead to appoint a single man and to entrust him with authority over the whole confederacy. The first to receive this honor was Margos of Caryneia.

In the fourth year after this man held the office, Aratus of Sicyon—then only twenty years old, having freed his native city from tyranny through his own courage and daring—brought it into the Achaean union, for from the very start he had been an enthusiast for their political ideals.

Then, in the eighth year after that, having been elected general for the second time, he laid a secret plot against the Acrocorinth, which Antigonus held, and seized it. By gaining control of it he relieved the inhabitants of the Peloponnese of a great fear, and by liberating the Corinthians he brought them into the Achaean union.

During the same term of office he also won over the city of Megara and attached it to the Achaeans.

These events took place in the year before the defeat of the Carthaginians, the defeat that made them withdraw entirely from Sicily and submit, for the first time, to paying tribute to Rome.

Having advanced his design so greatly in so short a time, Aratus thereafter continued as leader of the Achaean nation, directing all his plans and actions toward a single goal: namely, to expel the Macedonians from the Peloponnese, to abolish the autocracies, and to secure for each people the common freedom their ancestors had enjoyed.

Chapter 44 The Death of Demetrius

So long as Antigonus Gonatas lived, then, Aratus persisted in opposing both that king's meddling and the rapacity of the Aetolians, handling each matter with practical skill—even though the two of them had advanced so far in injustice and reckless daring that they made a formal compact with each other for the dismemberment of the Achaean nation. But when Antigonus died, the Achaeans came to terms and made an alliance with the Aetolians, who joined them honorably in the war against Demetrius; and so, for the time being, the estrangement and ill will were set aside, and a sense of partnership and friendship grew up between them.

When Demetrius, after a reign of only ten years, died at about the time of the Romans' first crossing into Illyria, events flowed favorably toward the Achaeans' original design.

For the autocrats in the Peloponnese fell into despair: Demetrius, who had been, as it were, their patron and paymaster, was dead; and Aratus was pressing hard upon them, insisting that they ought to lay down their tyrannies, holding out great gifts and honors to those who complied, while threatening those who resisted with still greater terrors and dangers at the hands of the Achaeans.

So they were driven to comply—to give up their tyrannies, to set their own native cities free, and to join the Achaean union.

Now Lydiades of Megalopolis, while Demetrius was still alive, had on his own initiative—shrewdly and prudently foreseeing what was to come—laid down his tyranny and joined the national confederacy.

And Aristomachus, tyrant of Argos, Xenon, tyrant of Hermione, and Cleonymus, tyrant of Phlius, now likewise gave up their autocracies and shared in the Achaean democracy.

Chapter 45 The Aetolians Envy the Achaeans

But as the nation grew and prospered all the more on this account, the Aetolians, prompted by their innate injustice and greed, grew envious—and, even more, hoped to carve up the cities among themselves, just as before they had divided the cities of Acarnania with Alexander and had schemed to divide those of the Achaeans with Antigonus Gonatas.

So now, buoyed up by similar hopes, they had the audacity to make common cause and join hands at once with both Antigonus—who at that time was head of the Macedonians, acting as guardian of the boy Philip—and Cleomenes, king of the Lacedaemonians.

For they saw that Antigonus held secure control of Macedonia, and that he was an acknowledged and open enemy of the Achaeans because of their plot that had captured the Acrocorinth.

They reckoned that if they brought in the Spartans as additional partners in the scheme and pushed them first into hostility against the nation, they could easily crush the Achaeans by attacking them at the right moment and surrounding them with war on every side.

And in all likelihood they would quickly have accomplished this, had they not overlooked the most crucial point in their plan: they failed to reckon that in their designs they would have Aratus as an opponent—a man capable of meeting every emergency.

And so, when they set out to meddle and to launch unjust attacks, far from achieving any of their aims, they did the opposite: they actually strengthened Aratus, then the leader, and the nation itself, since he skillfully drew them off and wrecked their plans.

How the whole affair was managed will become clear from what I am about to relate.

Chapter 46 The Intrigues of the Aetolians

For Aratus observed that the Aetolians were ashamed to take up war against the Achaeans openly, since the favors the Achaeans had done them in the Demetrian War were still very fresh, but that they were conspiring with the Spartans and envied the Achaeans so deeply that, when Cleomenes had treacherously seized from them Tegea, Mantinea, and Orchomenus—cities that were not only Aetolian allies but at that time actually members of their own league—they were not the least indignant about it, but even confirmed his takeover; and whereas in the past, out of greed, they had treated any pretext as sufficient grounds for going to war against people who had done them no wrong, now Aratus saw them willingly letting their treaties be violated and deliberately giving up their greatest cities for one purpose only—to see Cleomenes become a formidable adversary to the Achaeans.

Seeing all this, Aratus—and likewise all the leaders of the Achaean state—decided that they should not initiate war against anyone, but should resist the designs of the Spartans.

At first, then, they held to this view; but as time went on, when they saw Cleomenes boldly building the fort called the Athenaeum in the territory of Megalopolis and openly revealing himself as their bitter

enemy, then at last they convened the Achaeans and resolved, together with the council, to take up open hostility against the Spartans.

Chapter 47 The Cleomenic War

This, then, was how the war called the Cleomenic War began, and at about these times. At first the Achaeans set out to face the Spartans with their own forces, partly because they thought it most honorable not to obtain their safety through others, but to preserve their cities and territory by themselves, and partly because they wished to maintain their friendship with Ptolemy, on account of the benefits he had bestowed earlier, and not to appear to be reaching out to others for help.

But when the war had gone on for some time, and Cleomenes had abolished his country's ancestral constitution and converted its lawful kingship into a tyranny, and was waging the war with energy and reckless daring, Aratus, foreseeing what was to come and fearing the desperate audacity of the Aetolians, decided that he must spoil their plan well in advance.

He saw that Antigonus was a man of action and intelligence who laid claim to a reputation for trustworthiness, while he knew perfectly well that kings by nature regard no one as either an ally or an enemy, but always measure their hatreds and friendships by the calculus of self-interest.

So he resolved to open communication with that king and to join hands with him, pointing out to him the outcome that his present circumstances would bring.

To do this openly, however, he judged inexpedient for several reasons. For one thing, it would prepare Cleomenes and the Aetolians as adversaries to the scheme; for another, it would dishearten the mass of the Achaeans, since by taking refuge with their enemies he would seem to have utterly given up his hopes in them—which was the very last impression he wanted to create.

For this reason, holding to such a purpose, he planned to manage the matter in secret.

As a result, contrary to his own real intentions, he was often forced to say and do things in public through which, by presenting the opposite impression, he meant to conceal his actual management of affairs.

For this reason he did not even record some of these things in his memoirs.

Chapter 48 Aratus Involves Megalopolis

Aratus knew that the people of Megalopolis were suffering badly in the war, because, lying next to Sparta, they had to bear the brunt of the fighting ahead of the others, yet were not receiving the proper support from the Achaeans, since the Achaeans too were hard-pressed and crippled by their circumstances.

He also knew clearly that they were favorably disposed toward the Macedonian royal house because of the benefits they had received in the time of Philip, son of Amyntas.

So he understood that, once hard-pressed by Cleomenes, they would quickly take refuge with Antigonus and the hopes that Macedonia offered.

Accordingly, he confided his whole plan in secret to Nicophanes and Cercidas of Megalopolis, who were his family's hereditary guest-friends and well suited to the undertaking.

Through them he easily prompted the Megalopolitans to send an embassy to the Achaeans and urge them to appeal to Antigonus for help.

So the Megalopolitans appointed Nicophanes and Cercidas themselves as envoys to the Achaeans, and from there straight on to Antigonus, should the nation agree.

The Achaeans gave the Megalopolitans permission to send the embassy.

Chapter 49 The Message to Antigonus Doson from Aratus

Nicophanes and his colleagues hastened to meet the king, and concerning their own city they spoke only of the essentials, briefly and in summary; but most of what they said, following Aratus's instructions, concerned the broader situation, in accordance with his directions. These were: to point out what the collaboration between the Aetolians and Cleomenes amounted to and where it was heading, and to make clear that the Achaeans themselves had primarily to be on their guard, but next —and even more so—Antigonus.

For one thing, it was plain to everyone that the Achaeans could not withstand a war from both sides at once; and for another, that if the Aetolians and Cleomenes prevailed over the Achaeans, they would not rest content nor stop at the present situation—and this was even easier for a sensible man to see than the first point.

For the greed of the Aetolians would never be content to be confined within the boundaries of the Peloponnese—nor even within those of Greece; and the ambition of Cleomenes, his whole design, was for the present aimed at the rule of the Peloponnese, but once he gained that, he would at once reach for the leadership of all the Greeks.

And that leadership he could not attain without first overthrowing the Macedonian empire.

They therefore asked him to consider, looking ahead to the future, which course better served his own interests: to fight Cleomenes in the Peloponnese for the leadership of Greece alongside the Achaeans and Boeotians, or to abandon the greatest nation and stake the Macedonian empire on a battle in Thessaly against the Aetolians and Boeotians—and the Achaeans and Spartans as well.

If, then, the Aetolians—out of regard for the goodwill the Achaeans had shown them in the time of Demetrius—were to pretend to keep quiet, as they were doing even now, the Achaeans, they said,

would wage war against Cleomenes on their own; and if fortune lent its support, they would have no need of anyone to help them. But if fortune turned against them, and the Aetolians joined in the attack, they urged him to keep an eye on developments, so that he might not let the right moment slip, but might come to the aid of the Peloponnesians while they could still be saved.

As for good faith and the repayment of his kindness, they thought he need not trouble himself: once the service was rendered, they pledged that Aratus would himself find guarantees satisfactory to both parties.

Likewise, they said, he would himself indicate the right moment for the help to be given.

Chapter 50 Antigonus Doson Will Help the League

When Antigonus heard these arguments, he judged that Aratus was laying out the situation honestly and practically, and he attended carefully to the next steps. He also wrote to the people of Megalopolis, promising to send help, provided that the Achaeans, too, were willing that this should happen.

When Nicophanes and Cercidas returned home, delivered the king's letters, and made clear the rest of his goodwill and his eagerness for the cause, the Megalopolitans were elated and were keen to go to the assembly of the Achaeans and urge them to win Antigonus over and to place the conduct of affairs in his hands without delay.

Aratus, having heard privately from Nicophanes about the disposition the king held both toward the Achaeans and toward himself, was overjoyed that his scheme had not been undertaken in vain, and that he had not found Antigonus, as the Aetolians had hoped, utterly estranged from him.

He also considered it very much to his advantage that the Megalopolitans were eager to bring the matter to Antigonus through the agency of the Achaeans. For above all, as I said earlier, his goal was to avoid needing the assistance at all; but if it should become unavoidable to fall back on it, he wanted the invitation to come not through himself alone, but still more from all the Achaeans together.

For he was anxious that, should the king come, defeat Cleomenes and the Spartans in the war, and then adopt some less favorable policy toward their common constitution, he himself might by general agreement bear the blame for whatever followed— since Antigonus would be thought to be acting justly, on account of the wrong previously done by Aratus himself against the house of Macedon in the matter of the Acrocorinth.

Therefore, as soon as the Megalopolitans came before the common council, displayed the letters to the Achaeans, made clear the king's full goodwill, and on top of this asked them to secure Antigonus's alliance as quickly as possible—and as the assembly too was of the same inclination—

Chapter 51 The Achaeans Must Appeal to Antigonus

Aratus came forward, welcomed the king's eagerness and praised the disposition of the majority, but then in a lengthy speech urged them above all to try to preserve their cities and their territory by their own efforts: for nothing, he said, was more honorable or more advantageous than this; and only if fortune turned against them in this effort, he said, should they—after first exhausting every hope that lay within themselves—then fall back on the assistance of their friends. The assembly signified its approval, and it was resolved to hold to their present course and to carry through the current war by their own efforts.

But Ptolemy, despairing of the league, set about subsidizing Cleomenes instead—wishing to set him up against Antigonus, because he had greater hopes that the Spartans, rather than the Achaeans, could hold in check the designs of the Macedonian kings.

The Achaeans, meanwhile, were first worsted at Lycaeum, when they clashed with Cleomenes on the march; secondly they were defeated in a pitched battle at the place called Ladocea in the territory of Megalopolis, where Lydiadas also fell; and a third time they were utterly broken in the territory of Dyme, near the place called Hecatombaeum, where they had risked their whole levy.

At that point, when affairs no longer allowed any respite, their circumstances forced them to take refuge unanimously with Antigonus.

At that juncture Aratus sent his son as envoy to Antigonus and confirmed the terms regarding the assistance.

But the greatest difficulty and embarrassment they faced was this: the king did not seem likely to help unless he recovered the Acrocorinth and took the city of the Corinthians as a base of operations for the current war; while the Achaeans, for their part, could not bring themselves to hand the Corinthians over to the Macedonians against their will.

Chapter 52 Antigonus Doson at the Isthmus

For this reason the deliberation was at first postponed, so that the question of the guarantees might be examined. Cleomenes, meanwhile, having struck terror with the successes already described, now made his way fearlessly through the cities, winning some by persuasion and over others holding the threat of force. In this manner he took over Caphyae, Pellene, Pheneus, Argos, Phlius, Cleonae, Epidaurus, Hermione, Troezen, and last of all Corinth; and he personally laid siege to the city of the Sicyonians. But in doing so he in fact relieved the Achaeans of their gravest problem.

For when the Corinthians ordered Aratus, who held the office of strategus, and the Achaeans to leave the city, and sent messages to Cleomenes inviting him in, they handed the Achaeans a starting point and a reasonable pretext.

Aratus seized on it: since the Achaeans then held the place, he offered the Acrocorinth to Antigonus. By this he dissolved the standing grievance against the royal house, furnished a sufficient pledge of

partnership for the future, and—what was decisive—provided Antigonus a base of operations for the war against the Spartans.

When Cleomenes learned that the Achaeans were coming to terms with Antigonus, he broke camp from Sicyon and encamped near the Isthmus, fencing off with palisade and trench the ground between the Acrocorinth and the mountains called the Onean range, by now firmly embracing in his hopes the whole dominion of the Peloponnese.

Antigonus had long been ready, waiting to see what would happen in line with the proposals of Aratus.

At that point, reckoning from the reports reaching him that Cleomenes with his army was on the very point of entering Thessaly, he sent word to Aratus and the Achaeans about the terms agreed upon, and came with his forces through Euboea to the Isthmus.

For the Aetolians, among their other measures and also at this time wishing to prevent Antigonus from bringing aid, had forbidden him to march with an army south of Thermopylae, declaring that otherwise they would oppose his passage by force of arms.

Chapter 53 Cleomenes Returns to Sparta after the Achaeans Take Argos

So Antigonus and Cleomenes lay encamped opposite each other, the one striving to enter the Peloponnese, Cleomenes determined to bar Antigonus's way in. The Achaeans, although they had suffered no small reverses in the war as a whole, nevertheless did not abandon their resolve or give up the hopes that lay in their own efforts.

Rather, the moment that Aristotle of Argos rose in revolt against the Cleomenists, they came to his aid, broke into the city with Timoxenus the strategus, and seized the city of the Argives.

This indeed must be reckoned the chief cause of the recovery of their fortunes. For this was what checked the momentum of Cleomenes and beforehand broke the spirit of his troops, as became clear from the events themselves.

For although he held more advantageous positions, enjoyed more lavish supplies than Antigonus, and was driven on by greater daring and ambition, nevertheless, as soon as the news fell upon him that the city of the Argives had been taken by the Achaeans, he was immediately uprooted: abandoning the advantages just described, he made his withdrawal more like a flight, fearing that the enemy might surround him on every side.

He fell back upon Argos and for a while contested the city; but afterward, when the Achaeans resisted nobly and the Argives, out of remorse, fought him off with great zeal, he failed in this attempt as well, and marching by way of Mantinea returned thus to [...]

Chapter 54 Antigonus Doson Appointed Generalissimo

Sparta. Antigonus, having entered the Peloponnese safely, took over the Acrocorinth, and without staying any time held to his purpose and arrived at Argos.

After praising the Argives and settling affairs in the city, he again set off without delay, directing his march toward Arcadia.

He expelled the garrisons from the strongholds that had been built up by Cleomenes throughout the territory of Aegys and Belmina, handed those forts over to the Megalopolitans, and then came to the assembly of the Achaeans at Aegium.

There he gave an account of his own actions, conferred about future plans, and was further appointed commander of all the allies.

After this he spent some time in winter quarters in the region of Sicyon and Corinth. When the spring season came on, he took up his forces and advanced.

Completing the march to the city of the Tegeans on the third day, and being joined there by the Achaeans as well, he encamped around it and began to besiege it.

As the Macedonians pressed both the rest of the siege and the digging of mines vigorously, the Tegeans quickly despaired of safety and surrendered.

Antigonus, having secured affairs in the city, kept on without a break to the next stages of his plan and pressed on at speed into Laconia.

Drawing near to Cleomenes, who was posted in front of his own territory, he tested him and engaged in some skirmishing.

But when word came to him through his scouts that the soldiers from Orchomenus had marched out to reinforce Cleomenes, he at once broke camp and hurried off.

He took Orchomenus by storm at the first assault; then, encamping around the city of the Mantineans, he besieged it.

When the Macedonians had quickly terrified this city too and reduced it to submission, he broke camp and advanced along the road toward Heraea and Telphusa.

Having taken over these cities as well, their inhabitants coming over to him voluntarily, and with winter now closing in, he came to Aegium for the assembly of the Achaeans.

He dismissed all the Macedonians home for the winter, while he himself conferred with the Achaeans and deliberated jointly with them about the present situation.

Chapter 55 Capture of Megalopolis

About this time Cleomenes observed that the forces had been disbanded, that Antigonus with his mercenaries was lingering at Aegium, three days' march distant from Megalopolis, and that this city was hard to guard because of its size and the thinness of its population, and was at that moment being watched all the more carelessly because of Antigonus's presence in the country. Most important of all, he knew that the greater part of its men of military age had perished in the battle at Lycaeum and afterward in the battle at Ladocea.

So, getting the help of some Messenian exiles who happened to be staying in Megalopolis, he slipped in by night through their agency, undetected, inside the walls.

When day broke, he came within a little of not merely being driven out but of risking total disaster, on account of the courage of the Megalopolitans.

This was just what had happened to him three months earlier, when he had broken in by the part of the city called the Colaeum.

On this occasion, however, by the size of his force and by seizing the favorable positions in advance, he accomplished his design, and in the end, driving out the Megalopolitans, he took possession of the city.

Having made himself master of it, he destroyed it so bitterly and so malignantly that no one could even hope it might ever be resettled.

He did this, it seems to me, because among the Megalopolitans and the Stymphalians alone, throughout the vicissitudes of those times, he had never been able to procure either a partisan and accomplice in his own designs, or a traitor.

For as to the Clitorians, their love of freedom and their nobility were disgraced by the baseness of a single man, Thearces—whom the Clitorians, with good reason, deny was born among them, asserting that he was a changeling foisted in from Orchomenus, the son of one of the foreign garrison soldiers there.

Chapter 56 The Credibility of Phylarchus

Now, since among those who have written about the same period as Aratus, Phylarchus is, in some quarters, held worthy of acceptance—though on many points he holds opposing views and writes the contrary of Aratus— it would be useful, or rather necessary for us, since we have chosen to follow Aratus concerning the Cleomenic affairs, not to leave this matter unexamined, lest we allow falsehood in written works to carry weight equal to the truth.

In general, then, this writer has throughout his whole work said much at random and as chance dictated.

But while it is perhaps not necessary to censure him on the other matters at present, or to scrutinize them closely, those of his statements that bear on the period I am now writing about—that is, the

affairs of the Cleomenic war—on these it is necessary for us to give a precise account.

These will be quite sufficient to enable us to understand his whole purpose and ability in his work.

Wishing, then, to set forth the cruelty of Antigonus and the Macedonians, and along with theirs that of Aratus and the Achaeans, he says that the Mantineans, when they fell into their hands, met with great misfortunes, and that the most ancient and greatest city of Arcadia struggled with such great calamities as to move all the Greeks to amazement and tears.

And in his eagerness to call forth the pity of his readers and to make them feel for what he describes, he brings in women clinging together, hair flung loose, breasts bared, and besides these the tears and laments of men and women being led off into captivity together with their children and aged parents. And he does this throughout his whole history, always trying in each instance to set the horrors before our eyes.

Now let the ignoble and womanish character of his approach be passed over; let us examine instead what is proper to history and at the same time useful.

A historian, then, must not try to astonish his readers by sensational writing, nor seek out the speeches that might have been delivered, nor reckon up the circumstances that might attend his subject—as the writers of tragedy do—but must record above all only what was actually done and said, even if it happens to be quite ordinary.

For the aim of history and of tragedy is not the same, but the opposite. In the latter the object is to astound and beguile the hearers for the moment by the most plausible words; in the former it is, through true deeds and words, to instruct and convince for all time those who love learning.

In the one, what governs is plausibility, even if it be false, because the object is the deception of the spectators; in the other it is the truth, because the object is the benefit of those who love learning.

Apart from this, he relates most of his catastrophes without setting out the cause and manner of what happened—without which it is impossible reasonably to feel pity or properly to feel anger at anything that occurs.

For who among men does not think it a dreadful thing that free men should be struck? Yet, nonetheless, if a man suffers this because he began with unjust violence, he is judged to have suffered justly; whereas if the same thing is done for correction and instruction, those who strike free men are thought worthy even of honor and gratitude.

And again, the killing of fellow citizens is held to be the gravest impiety, deserving the heaviest penalties—and yet plainly the man who kills a thief or an adulterer goes unpunished, while the man who kills a traitor or a tyrant receives honor and precedence among all.

So in every case the final judgment about such things rests not in the deeds themselves, but in the causes and purposes of those who act, and in the differences between them.

Chapter 57 The Treatment of Mantinea

The people of Mantinea, then, had at the outset abandoned their membership in the Achaean confederacy and of their own free will handed themselves and their homeland over to the Aetolians, and after that to Cleomenes.

Having committed themselves to this course and become participants in the Spartan polity, in the fourth year before the arrival of Antigonus they were taken by storm by the Achaeans, when Aratus carried off a stroke against their city.

On that occasion they were so far from suffering any harsh treatment for the offense just described that what happened actually became famous, because of the suddenness with which both sides reversed their attitude toward one another.

For the moment he secured the city, Aratus at once ordered the men under his command that no one was to touch anything belonging to another.

Next, gathering the Mantineans together, he urged them to take heart and to remain in possession of their own property; for their safety would be guaranteed if they continued as citizens within the Achaean confederacy.

To the Mantineans this prospect appeared so unsuspected and unexpected that they all instantly swung over to the opposite frame of mind.

The very men against whom they had been fighting a little while before—men through whom they had watched many of their kinsmen perish and not a few of their own people fall to grievous wounds—these they now brought into their own houses and made sharers of their hearths along with their families, leaving out nothing of mutual goodwill.

And they had good reason to act so. For I do not know whether any men ever encountered more reasonable enemies, or whether any ever came through what seemed the greatest of calamities with less harm than the Mantineans did, thanks to the humanity of Aratus and the Achaeans toward them.

Chapter 58 The Mantineans Turn Over their City to the Spartans

But afterward, foreseeing the factional strife within their own community and the schemes of the Aetolians and Spartans, they sent envoys to the Achaeans and requested that a protective garrison be provided for them.

The Achaeans agreed and selected by lot three hundred men from their own number. Those on whom the lot fell set out, leaving behind their own cities and livelihoods, and took up residence in Mantinea, guarding the freedom and at the same time the security of its people.

Along with these they also sent out two hundred mercenaries, who together with the Achaeans helped maintain the established order there.

Not long afterward, however, the Mantineans fell into civil strife, drew in the Spartans, handed over the city to them, and slaughtered the men stationed among them by the Achaeans—a graver and more dreadful breach of faith than one could easily describe.

For even granted that they had decided to renounce altogether their gratitude and friendship toward the confederacy, they surely ought at least to have spared the men just mentioned and allowed every one of them to depart under a truce.

This much, after all, it is customary to grant even to enemies, by the common laws of mankind.

But they, in order to give Cleomenes and the Spartans a sufficient pledge of their commitment to the present design, transgressed the common rights of mankind and deliberately carried out the most monstrous act of impiety.

For to become the murderers and avengers of men who had earlier taken them by storm yet released them unharmed, and who at that very moment were guarding their freedom and security—how great an indignation does this deserve?

What would these men have to suffer before they would be thought to have paid a fitting penalty? Perhaps one might say: to be sold into slavery along with their wives and children, once they had been overcome in war.

But this is a fate that, by the laws of war, awaits even those who have committed no act of impiety at all. So they deserved to meet with some more thorough and heavier punishment; and therefore, even if they had suffered what Phylarchus says, it would not have been natural for pity toward them to follow from the Greeks. Rather, praise and approval would have been due to those who carried out the punishment of their impiety.

Yet, although nothing worse befell the Mantineans in their downfall than the plundering of their goods and the selling of the free into slavery, this writer, for the sake of sensationalism, not only introduced an outright falsehood, but a falsehood that is implausible as well; and through the excess of his ignorance he could not even take account of what lay right beside it—namely, how these same men, who at the very same period took Tegea by storm, did nothing of the kind there.

And yet, if the cruelty of the perpetrators had been the cause, it would have been natural for the people of Tegea too to suffer the same fate as those who had fallen under their power at the same time.

But if the difference in treatment concerned the Mantineans alone, it is obvious that the cause of the anger directed at them must also have been something distinctive.

Chapter 59 Execution of Aristomachus

Again, Phylarchus says that Aristomachus of Argos—a man from a most distinguished family, who had himself been tyrant of the Argives and was descended from tyrants—after falling into the hands of

Antigonus and the Achaeans, was led off to Cenchreae and tortured to death, having suffered the most unjust and dreadful treatment of any man alive.

In this episode too the writer keeps to his characteristic manner and invents certain cries supposedly heard through the night as the man was being racked, reaching the people living nearby; of whom some, he says, were appalled at the impiety, others incredulous, others outraged at what was happening, and all came running to the house.

As for this sort of sensationalism, let it pass; enough has been said about it.

For my own part, even if Aristomachus had committed no other crime against the Achaeans, I judge that, by reason of the way he chose to live and his lawless treatment of his own country, he deserved the heaviest punishment.

And although the writer, wishing to magnify the man's reputation and to dispose his audience to share more deeply in his indignation at what Aristomachus suffered, says that he was not only a tyrant himself but also descended from tyrants— no one could easily bring a graver or more biting accusation than this. For the very word carries with it the most impious connotation and embraces every injustice and lawlessness found among men.

And if Aristomachus did endure the most terrible tortures, as this man claims, even so he did not pay an adequate penalty for a single day— the day on which, after Aratus had broken into the city with the Achaeans and undergone great struggles and dangers for the freedom of the Argives, and had in the end been driven out because none of those inside who had arranged to support him stirred, out of fear of the tyrant—

Aristomachus, using this as a pretext and excuse, on the ground that certain men had been complicit in the Achaeans' entry, tortured and slaughtered the eighty foremost citizens, who had done no wrong, in front of their own relatives.

Chapter 60 Crimes of Aristomachus

I pass over the crimes committed throughout the whole of his life and those of his ancestors, for that would be a long story. And so one should not regard it as a terrible thing if he met with some such fate himself; far more terrible would it have been if he had died scot-free without experiencing any of this.

Nor should any lawlessness be charged against Antigonus or Aratus because they took a tyrant captive in war, tortured him, and put him to death—a man for killing and punishing whom, even in time of peace, praise and honor would have followed from all who reason rightly.

And when, on top of the crimes already mentioned, he also betrayed the Achaeans, what did he deserve to suffer?

He had laid down his tyranny only a short time before, hemmed in by circumstances on account of the death of Demetrius, and had unexpectedly obtained his safety, protected by the mildness and generosity of the Achaeans; for they not only made him exempt from punishment for the crimes committed during his tyranny, but even admitted him into their commonwealth and clothed him with the highest honor, appointing him their leader and general.

Yet he forgot the favors just described in an instant: as soon as his hopes for the future were a little raised by Cleomenes, he tore both his native city and his own allegiance away from the Achaeans at the most critical moment and attached them to the enemy.

Such a man, once he had been taken captive, ought not to have died being tortured at night in Cenchreae, as Phylarchus says, but rather to have been led around the Peloponnese and made an example of under punishment, and so to have departed from life.

And yet, for all that he was such a man, he met with no harsh treatment except being drowned in the sea by those stationed at Cenchreae.

Chapter 61 The Loyalty of the Megalopolitans

Besides this, he recounted the misfortunes of the Mantineans with exaggeration and dramatic effect, evidently supposing that it is the duty of historians to call attention to lawless deeds; yet of the nobility of the Megalopolitans, which they displayed at the very same period, he made not even the slightest mention— as though it were more proper to history to enumerate the offenses of the wicked than to mark out the fine and just things that men do, or as though readers of such records were less improved by serious and admirable deeds than by lawless and despicable ones.

How Cleomenes took the city, and how, having kept it intact, he at once sent letter-carriers to the Megalopolitans in Messene, inviting them to recover their homeland undamaged and to share in his own cause—this he did relate to us, wishing to display the magnanimity and moderation of Cleomenes toward his enemies.

And further, how the Megalopolitans, while the letter was being read aloud, would not let it be read to the end and nearly stoned the letter-carriers—this much he made clear. But the natural sequel, the very thing proper to history, he left out: the praise and the honorable record of their admirable resolve.

And yet it lay ready at hand. For if we count as good men those who endure war on behalf of friends and allies merely by their words and votes, while to those who go so far as to take upon themselves the devastation of their land and a siege we award not only praise but also gratitude and the greatest rewards, what estimate must we form of the Megalopolitans? Surely the most honorable and the highest?

First they surrendered their land to Cleomenes; then again they were utterly ruined and lost their homeland because of their loyalty to the Achaeans; and finally, when an unhoped-for and unexpected opportunity was given them to recover it undamaged, they chose instead to lose their land, the tombs

of their ancestors, their temples, their homeland, their possessions—everything, in a word, that men hold most necessary—rather than betray their faith to their allies.

What nobler deed has ever been done, or could be done? To what could a historian better draw the attention of his audience? By what deed could he more strongly urge men toward keeping faith and toward genuine and lasting partnership? Yet of none of this did Phylarchus make any mention, being blind, as it seems to me, to the finest things and those most fitting for a historian to treat.

Chapter 62 The Wealth of Megalopolis

Furthermore, in what follows he says that from the spoils of Megalopolis six thousand talents fell to the Spartans, of which two thousand were given to Cleomenes according to custom.

Here, in the first place, who would not be amazed at his inexperience and his ignorance of the common understanding of the resources and power of Greek affairs—a knowledge that historians above all ought to possess?

For I am not even speaking of those earlier times in which the resources of the Peloponnesians had been utterly ruined, both by the kings in Macedonia and, still more, by the unbroken succession of their wars against one another; but in our own day, in which everyone, speaking with one and the same voice, is thought to be enjoying the greatest prosperity, nevertheless from the whole Peloponnese, from its movable property alone—leaving slaves out of account—it would be impossible to gather so great a sum of money.

That I make this claim now not at random but on solid reasoning is clear from the following.

For who has not read concerning the Athenians that at the time when, together with the Thebans, they entered upon the war against the Spartans and sent out ten thousand soldiers and manned a hundred triremes, they then decided to base their war contributions on a property assessment and had the entire territory of Attica valued, along with the houses, and likewise the rest of their property—yet the whole valuation of their wealth fell short of six thousand talents by two hundred and fifty?

From this, what I have just said about the Peloponnesians will appear not unreasonable.

And at that period, from Megalopolis itself, not even the most extravagant estimate would dare to claim that more than three hundred talents were obtained, seeing that it is agreed that most of the people, both free and slave, managed to escape to Messene. And the strongest proof of what has been said is this: the Mantineans, who were second to none of the Arcadians in either power or wealth, as this very writer says, and who were captured through siege and surrender, so that no one could escape and nothing could easily be smuggled away, nevertheless yielded as their entire spoil, captives included, only three hundred talents at this same period.

Chapter 63 Cleomenes Invades Argolis

But who would not marvel still more at what comes next? For in his account he states that about ten days before the battle the ambassador from Ptolemy came to Cleomenes announcing that Ptolemy refused to continue supplying funds and urged him to make terms with Antigonus.

And he says that, on hearing this, Cleomenes decided he must stake everything on a throw as quickly as possible, before his forces learned what had happened, since he had no hope in his own resources of being able to pay his troops.

But if he had at that very time become master of six thousand talents, he could have outdone Ptolemy himself in supplies; and as for war against Antigonus, if he had been master of only three hundred talents, he would have been more than able to hold out safely and wear the war down.

To declare at once that all of Cleomenes' hopes rested on Ptolemy because of the supplies, and at the same time to assert that he had become master of so vast a sum at the very same period—how is this not a sign of the greatest absurdity and, moreover, of want of reflection?

Many other things of this kind have been set down by the writer, both for the present period and throughout his whole work; but concerning these I think that what has now been said is sufficient for my original purpose.

Chapter 64 Cleomenes Invades Argos

After the capture of Megalopolis, Antigonus wintered in the city of the Argives. As soon as the spring season set in, Cleomenes assembled his army, gave them the encouragement the moment called for, marched the troops out, and invaded the territory of the Argives.

To most observers this seemed a reckless and audacious move, given the strength of the fortified positions guarding the approaches; but to those who reasoned correctly it was both safe and shrewd.

For he could see that Antigonus had disbanded his forces, and so he knew clearly two things: first, that he would make his incursion without danger; and second, that as the countryside was ravaged right up to the walls, the Argives, watching what was happening, were bound to grow indignant and blame Antigonus.

If, then, it turned out that Antigonus could not endure the abuse of the crowds and came out to risk a battle with the forces he had on hand, it was plain from a reasonable calculation that Cleomenes would win easily.

But if Antigonus held to his strategy and stayed quiet, Cleomenes reckoned he could withdraw home safely, having struck fear into his opponents and instilled confidence in his own troops. And that is exactly what happened.

As the land was being plundered, the crowds gathered and railed at Antigonus. But he, acting very much like a true commander and king, set nothing above acting according to sound reason, and kept

his calm.

And Cleomenes, in keeping with his original plan, having ravaged the country, struck fear into his opponents, and made his own forces confident in the face of the coming danger, returned home in safety.

Chapter 65 Battle of Sellasia

When summer set in, and the Macedonian and Achaean troops had reassembled from their winter quarters, Antigonus took up his army and advanced with his allies into Laconia.

He had ten thousand Macedonians for the phalanx, three thousand peltasts, three hundred cavalry, a thousand Agrianians along with these, an equal number of Gauls, and in all three thousand mercenary infantry and three hundred mercenary cavalry.

There were also picked Achaean troops—three thousand infantry and three hundred cavalry—and a thousand Megalopolitans equipped in the Macedonian fashion, commanded by Cercidas of Megalopolis; and among the allies, two thousand Boeotian infantry, two hundred Boeotian cavalry, a thousand Epirote infantry and fifty cavalry, the same numbers from Acarnania, and sixteen hundred Illyrians, under the command of Demetrius of Pharos.

The entire force thus came to about twenty-eight thousand infantry and twelve hundred cavalry.

Cleomenes, anticipating the attack, had secured the other passes into the country with garrisons, trenches, and felled trees.

He himself, with his army, was encamped at the place called Sellasia, his whole force amounting to about twenty thousand men, having judged from reasonable calculation that the enemy would make their incursion by that route—which is just what came to pass.

Two hills lie right at the entrance of the pass, one called Evas and the other Olympus, with the road between them, running alongside the river Oenus, leading to Sparta. Cleomenes threw a trench and palisade across the front of both hills. On Evas he posted the perioeci and the allies, placing his brother Eucleidas in command of them, while he himself held Olympus with the Spartans and the mercenaries.

On the level ground beside the river, on either side of the road, he stationed the cavalry together with a portion of the mercenaries.

When Antigonus arrived and surveyed both the strength of the ground and the way Cleomenes had so skillfully occupied the advantageous points with every appropriate part of his army—so that the whole layout of the encampment resembled the defensive front of good armored fighters— for nothing had been left undone for either attack or defense; rather, it was at once an effective battle line and a position hard to approach— he therefore gave up any attempt to test it and engage at the first onset.

Chapter 66 The Two Armies Line Up

He gave up the idea of a rash attack, and instead pitched camp a short distance away, covering his front with the river called Gorgylus. There he remained for some days, studying both the peculiarities of the ground and the differences between the two armies, while at the same time making some show of intended maneuvers to draw out the enemy's plans.

But since he could never catch any point off guard or unarmed—because Cleomenes was always ready to counter every move— he abandoned that approach, and at last both sides agreed to settle the matter by battle: for Fortune had brought together in these two men commanders highly gifted and well matched.

Against the troops on Evas, then, the king drew up the bronze-shielded Macedonians and the Illyrians, arranged in alternating companies, placing Alexander, son of Acmetus, and Demetrius of Pharos in command.

Behind these he set the Acarnanians and the Epirotes, and behind them stood two thousand Achaeans, taking up position as a reserve.

His cavalry, around the river Oenus, he stationed opposite the enemy's horse, giving them Alexander as commander and flanking them with a thousand Achaean infantry and an equal number of Megalopolitans.

He himself, with the mercenaries and the Macedonians, resolved to make his attack along Olympus against the troops with Cleomenes.

So he placed the mercenaries in front and stationed behind them a double phalanx of Macedonians, one line close behind the other; he did this because of the narrowness of the ground.

The signal arranged for the Illyrians to begin their assault on the hill was the moment they should see a linen flag raised from the direction of Olympus—for these men had been positioned during the night along the river Gorgylus, right at the foot of the hill— and likewise for the Megalopolitans and the cavalry, when a scarlet flag was raised by the king.

Chapter 67 Battle Begins

When the moment for action came, the signal was given to the Illyrians, and those responsible passed the word to do what was required; at once they all revealed themselves and began the assault on the hill.

But the light-armed troops who had been posted from the start with Cleomenes's cavalry, seeing that the Achaean companies were left exposed in their rear, fell upon them from behind and brought into the gravest danger the men who were forcing their way up toward the hill— since Eucleidas's men were bearing down on them from the higher ground in front, while the mercenaries pressed on their rear

and laid into them vigorously. At this moment Philopoemen of Megalopolis grasped what was happening, and, foreseeing what would come of it, first tried to point out the looming result to the officers in command.

When no one paid him any heed—because he had never yet held a command and was still quite young—he rallied his own fellow citizens and charged the enemy boldly.

When this happened, the mercenaries who were pressing the rear of the men climbing the hill quickly heard the shouting, saw the cavalry locked in combat, abandoned the troops in front of them, and ran back to their original posts to help their own cavalry.

Once this happened, the body of Illyrians, Macedonians, and the others advancing with them, now free of harassment, surged eagerly and confidently against their opponents.

From this it later became clear that Philopoemen was responsible for the success against Eucleidas.

Chapter 68 Skill and Gallantry of Philopoemen

This is why, they say, Antigonus afterward tested Alexander, the commander of the cavalry, by asking him why he had begun the engagement before the signal was given.

When Alexander denied it, saying that some young man from Megalopolis had taken the initiative against his own wishes, Antigonus replied that the young man had acted like a good commander by seizing the moment, while Alexander, though a commander, had behaved like any ordinary youngster.

In any case, when Eucleidas's men saw the companies advancing, they failed to make use of the advantages of the ground.

What they should have done was meet the enemy and fall upon them well in advance, throwing their massed ranks into confusion and breaking them up, and then fall back step by step, steadily withdrawing in safety to the higher ground above.

For in that way, having spoiled and disrupted the special character of the enemy's equipment and formation beforehand, they would easily have routed them, thanks to the natural advantage of the terrain.

But they did none of this; instead, as though victory were already theirs for the taking, they did the very opposite.

For they stayed in their original position on the heights, intent on catching the enemy as high up as possible so that their flight would be all the longer over steep and broken ground.

What happened, naturally, was the reverse: by leaving themselves no room for retreat, and by letting the companies come up fresh and still in close order, they fell into such difficulty that they had to fight it out on the very crest of the hill against men forcing their way up.

Then, as soon as they were pushed back even a step by the weight of the enemy's armor and formation, the Illyrians immediately gained their footing, while Eucleidas's men were driven back, having left themselves no ground for retreat or maneuver.

As a result they were quickly turned and forced into a disastrous flight, since the ground over which they had to withdraw was for a long stretch steep and hard to cross.

Chapter 69 Defeat of Cleomenes

At the same time the cavalry engagement was reaching its climax, with all the Achaean cavalry—and Philopoemen above all—fighting outstandingly, since the whole struggle was for their own freedom.

In the course of this, Philopoemen's horse was struck a fatal blow and fell, and as he fought on foot he received a severe wound through both thighs.

Meanwhile the two kings, over on Olympus, at first carried on the fighting with their light-armed troops and mercenaries, of which each side had about five thousand.

These engaged sometimes in detachments, sometimes in their full bodies, and the fighting on both sides proved exceptional, as both the kings and their armies watched the battle in full view of one another.

They competed with each other man against man and unit against unit in displays of courage.

But when Cleomenes saw that his brother's troops had fled and that the cavalry on the level ground were on the verge of giving way, he grew alarmed that he might be attacked from every side and was forced to tear down his front fortifications and lead out his whole force in line along one side of the camp.

The light-armed troops of both sides were recalled from the ground between by the trumpet, and the phalanxes, raising their war cry together and leveling their pikes, charged one another.

A fierce struggle followed: at one moment the Macedonians fell back step by step, hard pressed by the courage of the Laconians, at another the Spartans were thrust back by the sheer weight of the Macedonian formation.

At last Antigonus's men locked their pikes together and, employing the special feature of the double phalanx, drove in with force and pushed the Spartans out of their entrenchments.

The rest of the army fled headlong, cut down as they went; but Cleomenes, with a few cavalry about him, withdrew safely to Sparta with them.

When night came on he went down to Gythium, where the means for a sea voyage had long since been prepared against just such an outcome, and sailed off with his friends to Alexandria.

Chapter 70 End of the Introductory Period

Antigonus, having taken Sparta at the first assault, treated the Spartans in everything else with magnanimity and kindness; and after restoring their ancestral constitution, within a few days he marched out of the city with his forces, on receiving word that the Illyrians had invaded Macedonia and were ravaging the country.

So it is that Fortune always tends to decide the greatest matters contrary to expectation.

For on this occasion too, if Cleomenes had only put off the engagement by a very few days, or had withdrawn from the battle into the city and held out against the situation even for a short while, he would have kept his throne.

As it was, Antigonus reached Tegea, restored their ancestral constitution there as well, and on the second day went on from there to Argos, arriving just in time for the festival of the Nemean games.

There, having received every honor that pertains to undying fame and glory, both from the Achaean League as a body and from each of the cities individually, he hurried off in haste to Macedonia.

He caught the Illyrians still in the country, met them in a pitched battle, and won the day; but having thrown himself so passionately into encouraging and shouting to his men during the engagement, he brought on a hemorrhage and some such condition, and not long afterward died of illness, having held out fine hopes of himself to all the Greeks, not only for his service in the field but still more for his whole character and nobility.

He left the kingdom of Macedonia to Philip, son of Demetrius.

Chapter 71 Conclusion of Book 2

Why have I dwelt at such length on the war just described?

Because these times join directly onto the events I am about to relate, and it seemed useful—indeed necessary, in keeping with my original plan—to make plainly clear to everyone the state of affairs that then existed concerning the Macedonians and the Greeks.

About the same period, Ptolemy too died of illness, and Ptolemy surnamed Philopator succeeded to the kingdom.

There died as well Seleucus, son of the Seleucus who bore the surnames Callinicus and Pogon; and Antiochus, his brother, succeeded to the kingdom in Syria.

For something very similar happened to these men as had happened to the first to hold these realms after the death of Alexander—I mean Seleucus, Ptolemy, and Lysimachus.

Those men all died around the 124th Olympiad, as I noted above, and these around the 139th.

Now that I have worked through the introduction and preliminary foundation of the whole history— through which it has been shown when, how, and for what reasons the Romans, after gaining mastery over Italy, first began to lay hands on affairs beyond it and first dared to dispute the sea with the Carthaginians, and at the same time have set out the condition then existing among the Greeks and Macedonians, and likewise among the Carthaginians— it would now be fitting, having arrived at these times in accordance with my original plan—the times in which the Greeks were about to enter upon the Social War, the Romans upon the Hannibalic War, and the kings in Asia upon the war for Coele-Syria— to mark off this book in line both with the outline of the events already recounted and with the deaths of the rulers who had managed affairs up to that point.

Book III

Hannibal pointing out the fertile plains of Italy to his exhausted army descending the snowbound Alps (218 BC). Book III, 50–56.

Chapter 1 Summary of the Work

In the first book of my whole composition—which is the third counting backward from the present one—I made clear that I would take as the starting points of my work the Social War, the Hannibalic War, and, alongside these, the war over Coele-Syria.

In that same book I also explained the reasons why, going back in time to the period before these events, I composed the books that precede this one.

Now, after a few preliminary remarks about my own undertaking, I shall attempt to give a demonstrated account of the wars mentioned above, of the causes from which they arose, and of the reasons why they grew to such proportions.

Since the whole subject I have set my hand to write about is in fact a single action and a single spectacle—namely, how, when, and why all the known parts of the inhabited world fell under the dominion of Rome— and since this event has a recognizable beginning, a fixed span of time, and an acknowledged conclusion, I think it useful to give in summary form a preliminary account of the greatest of its parts, all those that lie between the beginning and the end.

For I believe that in this way I shall best furnish to those eager to learn an adequate grasp of the whole design.

The mind takes in much when it moves from the whole toward knowledge of the particulars, and much again when it moves from the particulars toward understanding of the whole; and since I judge that the best comprehension and view comes from combining both, I shall make my preliminary outline of my own work follow accordingly.

I have already set out the general impression of my subject and its overall scope.

As for the particular events that occurred within it, the starting points are the wars mentioned above; the culmination and conclusion is the overthrow of the kingdom in Macedonia; and the time between the beginning and the end is fifty-three years.

Within this span are contained deeds so many and so great that no previous age has embraced their equal in an equal interval of time.

Beginning my account of these from the hundred and fortieth Olympiad, I shall make my approach to the exposition in the following manner.

Chapter 2 Plan: Causes of Wars

I shall make my approach to the narrative as follows. First, having pointed out the causes from which the previously mentioned war between the Carthaginians and the Romans—the one called the Hannibalic War—arose, I shall tell how the Carthaginians invaded Italy, broke up the dominion of Rome there, and brought the Romans into great fear for themselves and for the very soil of their homeland, while they themselves conceived great and unexpected hopes, expecting even to take Rome itself by assault.

Next, I shall try to make clear how, during the same period, Philip of Macedon—after fighting his war with the Aetolians to its end and afterward settling affairs among the Greeks—set out to share these same hopes with the Carthaginians, how Antiochus and Ptolemy Philopator first disputed and finally went to war with each other over Coele-Syria, and how the Rhodians and Prusias took up war against the Byzantines and forced them to stop levying tolls on those sailing into the Pontus.

Pausing my account at this point, I shall put together a discussion of the Roman constitution, in which I shall show in due sequence that the distinctive character of their political system contributed enormously to their success—not only in winning back their dominion over the Italians and Sicilians, and in further acquiring the rule over the Iberians and the Gauls, but finally also, after they had defeated the Carthaginians in war, in coming to conceive the idea of universal empire.

Together with this, by way of digression, I shall describe the fall of the dynasty of Hiero of Syracuse.

To these I shall append the disturbances in Egypt: how, after King Ptolemy departed this life, Antiochus and Philip agreed together to divide up the realm of the child he had left behind, and began their treacherous dealings and laid their hands on it—Philip on the regions around the Aegean, Caria, and Samos, and Antiochus on Coele-Syria and Phoenicia.

Chapter 3 Plan: Events in Greece

After this, having summarized the operations of the Romans and Carthaginians in Iberia, Libya, and Sicily, I shall, along with the shift in events, move my narrative entirely to the regions of Greece.

Having recounted the naval battles of Attalus and the Rhodians against Philip, and also the war between Rome and Philip—how it was conducted, by whom, and what end it had—

I shall join to this in unbroken sequence the account of the resentment of the Aetolians, in the course of which they drew in Antiochus from Asia and kindled the war against the Achaeans and the Romans.

After explaining its causes and the crossing of Antiochus into Europe, I shall make clear, first, how he was driven out of Greece; second, how, after being defeated, he withdrew from all the territory on this side of the Taurus; and third, how the Romans, after crushing the insolence of the Galatians, secured for themselves undisputed mastery over Asia and freed those dwelling on this side of the Taurus from their fear of the barbarians and from the lawlessness of the Galatians.

After this, having set before the reader's eyes the misfortunes of the Aetolians and the Cephallenians, I shall take up the wars that Eumenes waged against Prusias and the Galatians, and likewise the one waged together with Ariarathes against Pharnaces.

Following these, after recalling the concord and resettlement of the Peloponnesians, and also the growth of the Rhodian state, I shall draw together my whole narrative and the events within it, and finally relate the campaign of Antiochus, called Epiphanes, against Egypt, the Persian War, and the overthrow of the kingdom in Macedonia.

Through all of this it will at the same time be observed how the Romans, by their handling of each situation, made the whole inhabited world subject to themselves.

Chapter 4 Extension of the First Plan of the Work

Now, if it were possible to form an adequate judgment about which men and political systems are blameworthy and which, on the contrary, praiseworthy simply on the basis of their successes or their failures, then I ought to stop here and bring both my narrative and my work to a close with the last events I have mentioned, in keeping with my original intention.

For the fifty-three years came to their end at this point, and the growth and advance of Roman power had reached completion; and besides, it seemed an accepted fact, forced upon everyone, that from then on all that remained was to listen to the Romans and to obey their commands.

But since judgments based purely on the contests themselves are not conclusive, whether about the victors or about the defeated, because to many what seemed the greatest of successes has, when not used as it should be, brought the greatest disasters, while not a few who have met the most shattering reverses, when they bore them nobly, have often turned them to their advantage—

I ought therefore to add to the events already described an account of the policy of the victors: what it was afterward, and how they presided over the whole; and also the reactions and judgments of the others—how many and what kind there were concerning the leading power; and besides these I must set out the impulses and ambitions that prevailed and held sway among each people, both in their private lives and in their public affairs.

For it is clear that from these things it will become evident to people now living whether the rule of Rome is to be avoided or, on the contrary, to be welcomed, and to later generations whether their empire is to be considered praiseworthy and enviable or blameworthy.

It is precisely in this part that the usefulness of my history, both for the present and for the future, will chiefly lie.

For it must not be supposed that the end of a course of action—either for those who direct affairs or for those who pronounce judgment on them—is simply to conquer and bring everyone under one's own power.

No one with any sense makes war on his neighbors merely for the sake of defeating those who oppose him, nor sails the seas merely to make the crossing, nor takes up skills and crafts merely for the sake of the knowledge itself.

Everyone does everything for the sake of the resulting pleasure, honor, or advantage that comes from his actions.

Therefore the crowning achievement of this work will be to learn the condition of each people: what it was after everything had been subdued and had fallen under Roman authority, down to the disturbance and upheaval that arose again afterward.

Because of the magnitude of the events involved, the unexpected character of what happened, and—most of all—because I was not only an eyewitness to most of it but in some cases a participant and in others the very director, I was led to begin, as it were, a new work.

Chapter 5 The True Theory of Historical Causes

—as if making this the beginning of a fresh narrative to write. The upheaval I have spoken of was that in which the Romans waged war against the Celtiberians and the Vaccaei, and the Carthaginians against Massinissa, king of the Libyans; while in Asia Attalus and Prusias made war on each other, and Ariarathes, king of the Cappadocians, having been driven from his throne by Orophernes through the agency of King Demetrius, recovered his ancestral kingdom again with the help of Attalus.

Demetrius, son of Seleucus, after holding the throne of Syria for twelve years, was robbed at once of his life and his rule when the other kings combined against him.

The Romans, too, restored to their own country those Greeks who had been accused in connection with the Persian War, having acquitted them of the charge brought against them.

Not long afterward these same Romans laid their hands on the Carthaginians, intending first to compel them to relocate, and then, for reasons to be stated in what follows, to root them out altogether.

Corresponding to these events—as the Macedonians broke away from their friendship with Rome and the Spartans from their membership in the Achaean confederation—the common calamity of all Greece had at once its beginning and its end.

Such, then, is the design of my work.

But it still has need of Fortune, that the circumstances of my life may run together to bring my purpose to completion.

For I am persuaded that, even if some human fate should befall me, this theme will not be left idle, nor will it lack men worthy of it; rather, because of its excellence, many will pledge themselves to it and be eager to bring it to completion.

Now that I have gone through the most notable events in summary—wishing to give my readers a conception of the whole history both in general and in its parts—it is time, keeping my purpose in mind, to lead the account back to the beginning of my subject.

Chapter 6 Causes of the Second Punic War

Some of those who have written accounts of the deeds of Hannibal, wishing to point out to us the causes from which the aforementioned war between the Romans and the Carthaginians arose, name as the first the siege of Saguntum by the Carthaginians, and as the second their crossing, in violation of the treaties, of the river called by the local inhabitants the Ebro.

For my part, I would say that these were the beginnings of the war, but I would by no means concede that they were its causes. Far from it— unless one is also going to say that Alexander's crossing into Asia was the cause of the war against the Persians, and that Antiochus' landing at Demetrias was the cause of his war with the Romans: neither of which is either probable or true.

For who could suppose these to be causes, when Alexander earlier, and Philip while still alive, had done and prepared a great deal for the war against the Persians, and likewise the Aetolians had done much before the arrival of Antiochus for the war against the Romans?

But such notions belong to men who have not grasped how a beginning differs from a cause and a pretext, and how far apart they stand—that causes and pretexts come first of all, while the beginning is the last of the things mentioned.

I, however, declare that the beginnings of anything are the first attempts and actions to carry out what has already been decided, while the causes are the things that precede the decisions and judgments. By this I mean the conceptions, the dispositions, and the reasonings about these matters, and the considerations through which we come to decide on something and to set it as our purpose.

What I have said is made clear by what follows.

For what the true causes were, and from what source the war against the Persians sprang, is easy even for an ordinary person to discern.

The first was the return march of the Greeks under Xenophon from the upper satrapies, in the course of which, as they passed through the whole of Asia—hostile though it was—no one dared to stand and face them in the open; the second was the crossing of Agesilaus, king of the Lacedaemonians, into Asia, in which he found nothing worthy or capable of opposing his designs, and was forced to return midway, without accomplishing his aim, because of the disturbances in Greece.

From these things Philip perceived and reckoned up the cowardice and laziness of the Persians, as well as his own excellence and that of the Macedonians in matters of war; and setting before his eyes, too, the magnitude and splendor of the prizes that would come from the war, while at the same time securing the acknowledged goodwill of the Greeks, he at once made use of the pretext that he was

eager to avenge the lawless treatment the Greeks had suffered from the Persians, conceived an eagerness for the enterprise, resolved to make war, and began preparing everything toward this end.

Chapter 7 Fabius Pictor on the Cause of the Punic War

Accordingly, the first set of circumstances mentioned should be regarded as the causes of the war against the Persians, the second as the pretext, and the beginning as Alexander's crossing into Asia. And so too, in the case of the war between Antiochus and the Romans, it is clear that the cause must be considered the resentment of the Aetolians.

For they, believing that they had been slighted by the Romans in many respects regarding the outcome of the war with Philip—as I said above—not only drew in Antiochus, but undertook to do and suffer anything because of the anger that had arisen in them out of the events of that time.

The pretext should be considered the liberation of the Greeks, which they went about proclaiming from city to city in company with Antiochus, without reason and falsely; and the beginning of the war was the landing of Antiochus at Demetrias.

I have made this rather extended distinction about these matters not for the sake of censuring the historians in question, but for the sake of correcting the understanding of those eager to learn.

For what use is a physician to the sick who does not know the causes of the body's disorders? And what use is a man of affairs who cannot reason out how and why and from what source each of these matters took its origin?

For neither is it likely that the one will ever properly arrange treatments for the body, nor is it possible for the man of affairs to handle any situation that arises as he should, without knowledge of the things just mentioned.

Therefore there is nothing we ought to be more on the watch for and to seek out than the causes of each event that occurs, since the greatest matters often grow out of trifling ones, and it is easiest of all to remedy anything in its first impulses and conceptions.

Chapter 8 The Credibility of Fabius Pictor

Fabius, the Roman historian, claims that the cause of the war with Hannibal was, alongside the wrong done to the Saguntines, the greed and lust for power of Hasdrubal.

For Hasdrubal, he says, had built up great personal authority in the regions of Iberia, and afterward came to Libya with the intention of abolishing the laws and transforming the Carthaginian government into a monarchy.

But the leading men of the state foresaw his design, joined together against him, and resisted him.

Hasdrubal, suspecting their hostility, withdrew from Libya and from then on managed affairs in Iberia entirely according to his own judgment, paying no attention to the Carthaginian senate.

Hannibal, who from boyhood had shared and admired Hasdrubal's outlook, and who then succeeded to the command in Iberia, conducted affairs in the same manner as Hasdrubal.

And so, in this present case too, he launched this war against the Romans on his own authority, contrary to the will of the Carthaginians; for none of the men of standing in Carthage approved of what Hannibal had done against the city of the Saguntines.

After saying this, Fabius goes on to claim that, following the capture of the aforementioned city, the Romans came forward and demanded that the Carthaginians either hand Hannibal over to them or take on the war.

Now, suppose someone were to ask this historian: what occasion could have suited the Carthaginians better, and what course could have been more just or more advantageous than this one—seeing that, as he himself says, they had been displeased from the very beginning with Hannibal's actions?

What better than to yield then to the Romans' demands, hand over the man responsible for the wrongs, and so reasonably rid themselves, through others' hands, of the common enemy of the state, while securing safety for their territory and warding off the threatened war—all by merely passing a decree? What answer could Fabius give to this? Clearly none.

For so far were the Carthaginians from doing any of the things just described that they fought continuously for seventeen years in accordance with Hannibal's policy, and did not lay down the war until, having exhausted every hope, they came at last to the danger that threatened their homeland and the lives of all in it.

Chapter 9 First Cause of the Second Punic War

For what reason, then, have I brought up Fabius and what he has written?

Not out of any worry that his account is so plausible it might win belief among some readers—for the absurdity of his claims can be seen on its own, even without any explanation from me, by those who come across it— but rather for the sake of warning those who take up his books, so that they may look not to the author's reputation but to the facts.

For there are some who do not fix their attention on what is said but on the man who says it, and who, bearing in mind that the writer lived through those times and was a member of the Roman Senate, at once assume that everything he says is to be trusted.

My own view is that we should not, on the one hand, take the historian's authority lightly, but neither should we treat it as conclusive; rather, readers should base their judgments for the most part on the facts themselves.

But to return to the war between the Romans and the Carthaginians—for it was from this point that we made our digression—we must consider its first cause to have been the resentment of Hamilcar, surnamed Barcas, the natural father of Hannibal.

For that man's spirit had not been broken by the war over Sicily, since he believed that he himself had kept intact the forces at Eryx, where he was stationed, with their fighting spirit undiminished, and that it was only because of the Carthaginians' defeat in the naval battle that he had yielded to circumstances and made the treaty. He therefore held fast to his anger, always watching for a chance to strike.

Now, had the upheaval over the mercenaries not broken out among the Carthaginians, he would at once have made a fresh beginning and begun preparations for action, so far as it lay in his power.

Chapter 10 Second and Third Causes of the War

But he was forestalled by the civil disturbances, and his time was taken up with them. When the Romans, after the Carthaginians had put down the aforementioned disturbance, declared war on them, the Carthaginians at first were ready to face any extremity, supposing they would prevail on the justice of their cause, as we have explained concerning these matters in the earlier books—without which it would be impossible to follow properly either what is now being said or what we shall say hereafter.

But since the Romans would not give way, the Carthaginians yielded to the circumstances, and though deeply aggrieved, being unable to do anything, they withdrew from Sardinia and agreed to pay another twelve hundred talents on top of the earlier sum, on condition of not having to take on the war at that time.

This, then, must be reckoned the second—and the most important—cause of the war that later broke out.

For Hamilcar, adding to his own private resentment the anger of his fellow citizens over these matters, as soon as he had subdued the rebellious mercenaries and secured his country's safety, immediately set his energies on affairs in Iberia, eager to use it as a base of preparation for the war against the Romans. This too must be counted a cause—the third: I mean the prosperous course of Carthaginian affairs in Iberia. For it was by relying on the strength gained there that they confidently entered upon the aforementioned war.

Chapter 11 Hannibal's Oath

That Hamilcar contributed most to bringing about the second war—even though he died ten years before its outbreak—one could find many proofs; but what follows will be just about enough to establish the point. For at the time when Hannibal, after being defeated by the Romans, finally left his

homeland and was staying at the court of Antiochus, the Romans, now observing the scheming of the Aetolians, sent envoys to Antiochus, wishing not to be left in the dark about the king's intentions.

These envoys, seeing that Antiochus was inclined toward the Aetolians and eager to make war on the Romans, courted Hannibal, intent on bringing him under suspicion with Antiochus.

And this is just what happened. As time went on, and the king grew ever more suspicious of Hannibal, an occasion arose to bring out into open discussion the estrangement that had been quietly festering between them.

In the course of this, Hannibal offered several explanations, but at last, finding his arguments unavailing, he came out with the following.

He said that at the time when his father was about to set out on his expedition into Iberia with his forces, he himself was nine years old, and that as his father was sacrificing to Zeus he stood beside the altar.

When the omens proved favorable, his father poured the libation to the gods and performed the customary rites, then bade the others present at the sacrifice withdraw a little, and calling Hannibal to him, asked him kindly whether he wished to set out with him on the campaign.

When the boy eagerly assented and even begged, as children will, to be taken along, his father took him by the right hand, led him up to the altar, and bade him lay his hand on the sacrificial victims and swear that he would never be a friend to the Romans.

Chapter 12 Statesmen Must Pay Attention to Motives

Knowing this clearly, then, Hannibal urged Antiochus that, so long as he was planning anything hostile against the Romans, he should take heart and trust him, considering that he had in Hannibal a most genuine ally; but that if ever Antiochus should make a settlement or friendship with them, then he need wait for no slander, but should distrust Hannibal and be on his guard against him, for there was nothing Hannibal would not do against the Romans, if it lay in his power. Antiochus, hearing this and judging that it had been spoken with real feeling and sincerity, set aside all the suspicion he had held before.

As for the hostility of Hamilcar and his whole purpose, this must be regarded as undeniable evidence, as the facts themselves also made plain.

For he prepared such enemies of the Romans in Hasdrubal, his daughter's husband, and in his own natural son Hannibal, that no greater degree of hatred could be left to imagine.

Hasdrubal, dying before his time, did not make his purpose evident to everyone; but circumstances gave Hannibal abundant opportunity to display, all too fully, the hatred of Rome he had inherited from his father.

For this reason, those placed in charge of public affairs ought to attend to nothing more than discerning the true intentions of those who lay aside their enmities or form friendships—whether they are making their agreements as a concession to circumstances or because their spirit has truly been defeated— so that they may be constantly on guard against the former, regarding them as men lying in wait for an opportunity, while trusting the latter as genuine subjects or friends and giving them, without hesitation, whatever orders the occasion may require.

These, then, are to be considered the causes of the war with Hannibal. As for the beginnings, which I am about to relate [...]

Chapter 13 Hannibal Succeeds to Command in Spain

[...] The Carthaginians had taken hard their defeat over Sicily, but their anger was intensified still further, as I said above, by the affair of Sardinia and by the size of the sum of money imposed on them at the end.

For this reason, as soon as they had brought most of Iberia under their control, they were ready to seize on anything that offered a chance against the Romans.

So when the death of Hasdrubal occurred—the man to whom they had entrusted affairs in Iberia after the death of Hamilcar—they at first waited to see which way the armies would lean.

But when news came from the camps that the forces had with one accord chosen Hannibal as their commander, the Carthaginians at once convened the popular assembly and by a unanimous vote ratified the army's choice.

As soon as Hannibal had taken over the command, he set out at once to subdue the tribe of the Olcades; and arriving before Althaea, their most important city, he made camp.

After this, by means of vigorous and terrifying assaults, he quickly took the city. When this happened, the rest of the tribe, struck with terror, surrendered themselves to the Carthaginians.

Having exacted money from the cities and gained control of large funds, he came to New Carthage to winter.

Chapter 14 Hannibal Attacks the Vaccaei

Treating those under him generously—paying part of the wages owed to the men serving with him and promising the rest—he instilled in his forces great goodwill and high hopes for the future. In the following summer he set out again, this time against the Vaccaei. He took Helmantica (Salmantica) by storm at the first assault, but Arbucala—because of the city's size, its large population, and the bravery of its inhabitants—he captured by force only after a laborious siege.

After this, on his march back, he unexpectedly found himself in the gravest danger, when the Carpesii —who are just about the strongest tribe in those regions—rushed upon him.

Their neighbors gathered together with them as well, stirred up chiefly by the exiles of the Olcades, but further inflamed by those who had escaped from Helmantica.

Had the Carthaginians been forced to risk a pitched battle against these foes, they would beyond question have been defeated.

As it was, Hannibal acted with skill and good sense: he wheeled about and withdrew, placing the river called the Tagus as a barrier in front of him, and arranged the engagement around the crossing of the river, using as his allies both the river itself and the elephants he had, about forty in number. As a result, the whole affair turned out, against expectation, just as he had reasoned it would.

For when the barbarians attempted to force a crossing of the river at several points, the greater part of them were destroyed at the places where they emerged, as the elephants moved along the bank and caught those coming out of the water one after another; and many were killed in the river itself by the cavalry, since the horses were better able to hold their ground against the current, and the horsemen had the advantage of higher ground in fighting against the foot soldiers.

Finally, Hannibal's men crossed over to the other side in their turn, fell upon the barbarians, and routed more than a hundred thousand of them.

After their defeat, no one south of the river Ebro any longer dared readily to look him in the face—except the Saguntines.

From this city Hannibal tried his best to keep his distance, wishing to give the Romans no acknowledged pretext for war until he had securely brought everything else under his control, in keeping with the instructions and counsels of his father Hamilcar.

Chapter 15 Hannibal Defies the Romans

The Saguntines kept sending embassies to Rome, partly because they were anxious for themselves and could see what was coming, and partly because they wanted the Romans to be aware of the steady success the Carthaginians were having in their Iberian affairs.

Time and again the Romans paid no attention to them, but at this point they dispatched envoys to investigate the situation.

At about the same time Hannibal, having subdued the peoples he had set out to subdue, came back with his forces to winter at New Carthage, which was in a sense the showpiece and royal seat of the Carthaginians in the regions of Iberia.

There he found the embassy from Rome, granted it an audience, and heard out what it had to say about the present circumstances.

The Romans, for their part, solemnly warned him to keep his hands off the Saguntines—since they were under Roman protection—and not to cross the river Ebro, in keeping with the agreement made in Hasdrubal's time.

But Hannibal—being young, full of warlike energy, successful in his ventures, and long since driven by his hatred of Rome— answered the envoys by posing as the protector of the Saguntines. He charged the Romans with having, a short time before, when civil strife broke out in the city, taken on the role of arbitrators and unjustly put some of the leading men to death; he said the Carthaginians would not stand by while the Saguntines were treated treacherously like this, for it was Carthage's ancestral policy to overlook no one who was being wronged.

At the same time he sent word to Carthage asking what he should do, on the grounds that the Saguntines, trusting in their alliance with Rome, were committing injustices against some of the peoples subject to Carthage.

In short, he was thoroughly governed by unreason and violent passion. For this reason he did not make use of the genuine grounds for complaint, but took refuge in irrational pretexts—just as men typically do when, because of the impulses already lodged in them, they lose all regard for what is right.

How much better it would have been for him to take the view that the Romans ought to give back Sardinia to the Carthaginians, along with the tribute they had imposed at the same time—both of which the Romans had unjustly seized earlier when they took advantage of Carthage's difficulties—and that, failing that, he would go to war.

Instead, by saying nothing of the real, existing grievance and fabricating a non-existent one concerning the Saguntines, he gave the impression of starting the war not only without reason but, still worse, unjustly.

As for the Roman envoys, since they now clearly understood that war was inevitable, they sailed off to Carthage, intending to lodge the same protest there as well.

They expected, however, that they would be fighting the war not in Italy but in Iberia, and that they would use the city of Saguntum as their base of operations.

Chapter 16 War in Illyria

For this reason, the Senate, in adapting its plans to this situation, decided to secure its interests in Illyria, foreseeing that the war would be a major and protracted one, fought far from home.

For it so happened that at this time Demetrius of Pharos had forgotten the benefits he had previously received from the Romans, and—having come to despise them, first because of the threat surrounding them from the Gauls and then because of the threat from the Carthaginians— placing all his hopes in the royal house of Macedonia (because he had fought alongside Antigonus and shared in the

campaigns against Cleomenes), was plundering and subjugating the cities of Illyria that were subject to Rome, and had sailed beyond Lissus with fifty galleys, in violation of the treaty, and had ravaged many of the Cyclades islands.

In view of this, and seeing that the royal house of Macedonia was flourishing, the Romans were eager to secure their interests east of Italy, convinced that they had ample time to set right the folly of the Illyrians and to censure and punish the ingratitude and recklessness of Demetrius.

But they were mistaken in their calculations, for Hannibal forestalled them by taking the city of Saguntum.

And as a result it came about that the war was fought not in Iberia but right at Rome's doorstep and throughout the whole of Italy.

Nonetheless, with these considerations in mind, the Romans, just before the summer season, sent out Lucius Aemilius with an army to conduct operations in Illyria, in the first year of the one hundred and fortieth Olympiad.

Chapter 17 Hannibal Takes Saguntum

Hannibal, breaking camp with his army, advanced from New Carthage and marched on Saguntum.

This city lies on a spur of the mountain range that runs down toward the sea, where the borders of Iberia and Celtiberia meet, and it stands about seven stades from the sea.

Its inhabitants farm a territory that produces every kind of crop and is superior in quality to any in all of Iberia.

It was here that Hannibal pitched camp and set about the siege in earnest, foreseeing many advantages that would come from taking the city by storm.

In the first place, he reckoned he would deprive the Romans of their hope of basing the war in Iberia. Second, he was convinced that by terrifying everyone he would make the peoples already under his command more obedient, and the still-independent Iberians more cautious.

But the most important thing was that, leaving no enemy behind him, he could safely make his advance forward.

Apart from these considerations, he reckoned that he himself would gain plentiful supplies for his enterprises, that he would inspire eagerness in his forces through the profit each man stood to gain, and that he would win the goodwill of the Carthaginians at home through the spoils that would be sent to them.

With such calculations in mind, he pressed the siege vigorously, at times making himself an example to the troops by personally taking part in the labor of the works, and at other times encouraging the

men and recklessly exposing himself to danger.

After enduring every kind of hardship and care, he finally took the city by storm in eight months.

Having become master of a great quantity of money, captives, and goods, he set aside the money for his own undertakings, in keeping with his original plan; the captives he distributed among his fellow soldiers according to each man's merit; and the goods he sent off at once, in their entirety, to the Carthaginians.

In doing this he was not disappointed in his calculations, nor did he fail of his original purpose. Rather, he made his soldiers keener to face danger, kept the Carthaginians ready to do whatever he asked, and afterward, thanks to the supplies he had laid in, accomplished many useful things himself.

Chapter 18 Demetrius Fortifies Dimale

At about this same time, as soon as Demetrius learned of the Romans' intentions, he immediately threw a strong garrison into Dimale, with appropriate supplies, while in the other cities he put to death those who opposed his policies and placed power in the hands of his own friends.

He then picked out six thousand of the most able-bodied men from his subjects and stationed them in Pharos.

When the Roman commander arrived in Illyria with his forces and saw that the enemy were confident in the strength of Dimale and in their preparations—and moreover believed the place to be impregnable—he decided to attack it first, wishing to strike terror into the enemy.

After addressing the various officers in turn and bringing up siege works at several points, he began the siege.

He took the place by storm in seven days, and at once crushed the spirit of all his opponents.

As a result, envoys immediately came from all the cities, surrendering themselves and placing themselves under the protection of Rome.

He accepted each on suitable terms and then sailed to Pharos against Demetrius himself.

Learning that the city was strongly fortified, that a large body of exceptional troops had been gathered into it, and that it was furthermore well stocked with supplies and other equipment, he began to suspect that the siege might prove difficult and drawn out.

So, foreseeing all this, he resorted on the spot to the following sort of stratagem.

Making his approach to the island by night with his whole army, he landed the greater part of his force at some wooded, low-lying places, while at daybreak he sailed openly with twenty ships toward the harbor nearest the city.

When Demetrius and his men caught sight of the ships and, despising their small number, rushed out of the city to the harbor to prevent the landing.

Chapter 19 Illyrian War Successfully Finished

As soon as battle was joined and the fighting grew fierce, more and more men kept coming out of the city in support, until at last the whole force had poured out into the engagement.

At that point the Romans who had disembarked during the night joined the battle, having made their way through unobserved ground.

Seizing a strong hill between the city and the harbor, they cut off from the city those who had sallied out.

When Demetrius and his men realized what had happened, they gave up trying to stop those landing; rallying themselves and exhorting one another, they set off, having decided to risk a pitched battle against the troops on the hill.

The Romans, seeing the Illyrians' attack coming on vigorously and in good order, charged their companies into them with terrifying force.

At the same time, the men who had made the landing from the ships, seeing what was happening, pressed in from behind; and attacking from every side, they created no small confusion and disorder among the Illyrians.

So, with some of them in difficulty to their front and others to their rear, in the end Demetrius and his men were routed. Some of them fled toward the city, but most scattered across the island by trackless ways.

Demetrius, who kept galleys ready for whatever might happen, lying at anchor at certain deserted spots, made his escape to these. Boarding them when night came on, he sailed away and, against all expectation, made his way to King Philip, with whom he spent the rest of his life— a man who possessed daring and boldness, but daring of an irrational and utterly undiscerning kind.

And so it came about that his death matched the character of his whole life.

For when, with Philip's approval, he undertook to seize the city of the Messenians, he was killed in a rash and reckless manner at the very moment of the attempt—matters about which I will give the details when I come to that period.

The Roman commander Aemilius, after taking Pharos at once by assault and razing it, gained control of the rest of Illyria, settled everything according to his own plans, and then, as the summer was now drawing to a close, returned to Rome, where he celebrated his entry with a triumph and amid universal acclaim.

For he was thought to have handled the affair not only skillfully but, still more, with manly courage.

Chapter 20 Rome's Reaction to the Fall of Saguntum

As for the Romans, when the news of the capture of Saguntum had already reached them, they certainly did not, by Zeus, then hold a debate about whether to go to war—as some historians claim, even setting down the speeches supposedly delivered on both sides—which is the most absurd thing imaginable.

For how could it be that the Romans, who a year earlier had declared war on the Carthaginians should they so much as set foot on Saguntine territory, would now, after the city itself had been taken by storm, gather to deliberate whether or not to go to war?

And how, and in what manner, can these writers, while introducing the astonishing detail of the gloom of the Senate, at the same time claim that the fathers brought their sons of twelve and older into the Senate House, and that these boys, though present at the deliberations, did not divulge any of the secrets even to their closest relatives?

None of this is either plausible or true in the slightest—unless, by Zeus, on top of everything else, Fortune granted the Romans this gift too: to have good sense the moment they were born.

About such writings as those of Chaereas and Sosilus there is no need to say anything more, for in my view they have the rank and value not of history but of barber-shop and street-corner gossip.

When the disaster that had befallen the Saguntines was reported to them, the Romans at once chose envoys and sent them in haste to Carthage, presenting them with two options, one of which seemed, if the Carthaginians accepted it, to bring both disgrace and harm, while the other meant the beginning of great troubles and dangers.

For they either ordered that the general Hannibal and the councilors with him be handed over to the Romans, or they declared war.

When the Romans arrived, came before the Senate, and made these demands clear, the Carthaginians found the choice being put to them hard to bear.

Nonetheless, they put forward the ablest man among them and began to plead their case.

Chapter 21 Romans Demand Surrender of Hannibal

As for the agreement made with Hasdrubal, they passed over it in silence, on the grounds that it had never been made, and that even if it had, it was not binding on them, since it had been concluded without their authorization.

On this point they used a precedent drawn from the Romans themselves: they said that the treaty made by Lutatius during the war over Sicily, after it had already been agreed to by Lutatius, was later annulled by the Roman people on the grounds that it had been made without their authorization.

Throughout their argument they pressed and leaned hard on the final treaty, the one concluded in the war over Sicily.

In it, they said, there was no clause in writing concerning Iberia, but it was expressly laid down that the allies of each party should enjoy security from both.

They pointed out that the Saguntines were not at that time allies of Rome, and to prove this they read out the treaty aloud several times.

The Romans, however, refused outright to engage in legal argument, declaring that while the city of the Saguntines remained intact, the matter admitted of legal pleading and it was possible to settle the disputed points by discussion; but now that the city had been treacherously destroyed, either the guilty parties had to be surrendered to them—whereby it would be clear to all that the Carthaginians had had no share in the wrongdoing, but that the deed had been done without their authorization— or, if they were unwilling to do this and admitted that they shared in the wrongdoing, they had to take on the war as well. So the two sides argued in these rather general terms.

But it seems necessary to me not to leave this matter unexamined, so that neither those whose duty and concern it is to know the precise truth of these things may stray from the truth in deliberations of the utmost importance, nor those who study these matters out of love of learning may go astray, misled along with the errors and partisan ambitions of the historians; but rather that there may be some agreed-upon survey of the rights that existed between the Romans and the Carthaginians toward one another, from the beginning down to our own times.

Chapter 22 The First Treaty

The first treaty between Rome and Carthage was concluded in the consulship of Lucius Junius Brutus and Marcus Horatius, the first consuls appointed after the abolition of the monarchy—the same men under whom the temple of Jupiter on the Capitol was consecrated.

This was twenty-eight years before Xerxes crossed over into Greece.

I have translated the treaty and set it down below as accurately as I possibly could. For so great is the difference between the Roman language of today and that of antiquity that even the most learned men can scarcely make out certain points, and only after careful study.

The terms of the treaty run roughly as follows: “On these conditions there shall be friendship between the Romans and the allies of the Romans, and the Carthaginians and the allies of the Carthaginians:

The Romans and their allies shall not sail beyond the Fair Promontory, unless they are forced to by storm or by enemies. If anyone is driven beyond it by necessity, he shall not be permitted to buy or take anything except what is needed for the repair of his ship or for sacrifices, and within five days he must depart. Those who come to trade shall pay no duty, except for the fee to the herald or the clerk. Whatever is sold in their presence shall be guaranteed to the seller by the public faith—that is, whatever is sold either in Libya or in Sardinia.

If any Roman comes to the part of Sicily that the Carthaginians govern, he shall have rights equal in all respects to the Carthaginians. The Carthaginians shall do no wrong to the people of Ardea, Antium, Laurentum, Circeii, or Tarracina, nor to any other of the Latins who are subject to Rome. From those cities that are not subject to Rome they shall keep their hands; and if they take one, they shall hand it back to the Romans undamaged. They shall build no fortress in Latium. If they enter the territory in arms, they shall not spend a night within that territory."

Chapter 23 Division of Territory

The Fair Promontory is the headland lying just in front of Carthage itself, toward the north.

The Carthaginians hold that the Romans must under no circumstances sail in warships beyond this point toward the south, because—as it seems to me—they did not want them to become acquainted either with the region around Byzacium or with that around the Lesser Syrtis, the places they call Emporia, on account of the richness of the land.

But if anyone is driven there by force of storm or of enemies and needs some of the necessities for sacrifices or for the repair of his ship, they allow him to take these and nothing beyond them, and those who have put in to anchor must of necessity depart within five days.

To Carthage, and to all the part of Libya lying on the near side of the Fair Promontory, and to Sardinia and to the part of Sicily the Carthaginians govern, the Romans are permitted to sail for trade, and the Carthaginians guarantee by the public faith that justice will be secured.

From the terms of this treaty it is clear that they speak of Sardinia and Libya as their own exclusive possessions; but in the case of Sicily they expressly stipulate the opposite, making the treaty apply only to those parts of Sicily that fall under Carthaginian dominion.

Likewise the Romans make the treaty concerning Latium alone, and make no mention of the rest of Italy, because it did not fall under their authority.

Chapter 24 The Second Treaty

After these, they made a further treaty, in which the Carthaginians included the Tyrians and the people of Utica as well.

To the Fair Promontory they added Mastia of Tarseium, beyond which they hold that the Romans must neither raid nor found a city.

Its terms run roughly as follows: “On these conditions there shall be friendship between the Romans and the allies of the Romans, and the Carthaginians, the Tyrians, and the people of Utica and their allies. Beyond the Fair Promontory and Mastia of Tarseium the Romans shall not raid, nor trade, nor found a city. If the Carthaginians take some city in Latium that is not subject to the Romans, they may keep the goods and the men, but shall give back the city. If any of the Carthaginians capture men belonging to a people with whom the Romans have a peace in writing, but who are not subject to the Romans, they shall not bring them into the harbors of the Romans; and if such a captive is brought in and a Roman lays a hand on him, he shall be set free. The Romans shall do likewise.

If a Roman takes water or provisions from any land the Carthaginians govern, he shall not, while supplied with these provisions, do wrong to any with whom the Carthaginians are at peace and friendship.

A Carthaginian shall do likewise. If one does otherwise, he shall not take redress on his own authority; and if anyone does so, the wrong shall be treated as a public offense. In Sardinia and Libya no Roman shall trade or found a city—[…] unless only to take on provisions or to refit a ship. If a storm drives him in, he shall depart within five days. In the part of Sicily the Carthaginians govern, and in Carthage, a Roman may do and sell everything that is permitted to a citizen. A Carthaginian shall do likewise in Rome.”

Once again in this treaty they tighten their hold on Libya and Sardinia, claiming them as their own and shutting off every landing-place to the Romans; but in the case of Sicily they specify the opposite, with respect to the part subject to them.

So too the Romans, in regard to Latium, hold that the Carthaginians must do no wrong to the people of Ardea, Antium, Circeii, or Tarracina. These are the cities that enclose, along the sea, the Latin territory with which the treaty is concerned.

Chapter 25 The Third Treaty

Furthermore, the Romans concluded yet another treaty, the last of them, at the time of Pyrrhus’s crossing, before the Carthaginians had embarked on the war over Sicily.

In it they preserve all the other provisions in accordance with the existing agreements, but the following clauses are added to them.

“If they make a written alliance with Pyrrhus, both parties shall make it on such terms that they remain free to come to each other’s aid in the territory of whichever is being attacked.

Whichever of the two has need of the assistance, the Carthaginians shall furnish the ships both for the voyage out and for the return, but each side shall provide the pay for its own men.

The Carthaginians shall also aid the Romans by sea, if there is need; but no one shall compel the crews to disembark against their will."

The oath that had to be sworn was as follows.

In the case of the first treaties, the Carthaginians swore by the gods of their ancestors and the Romans by Jupiter the Stone, in accordance with a certain ancient custom; but in the case of these later treaties, by Mars and Enyalius.

The swearing by Jupiter the Stone went like this: the man taking the oath over the treaty takes a stone in his hand, and once he has sworn in the name of the public faith, he says these words:

"If I keep my oath, may good things be mine; but if I think or do otherwise, then, while all others are kept safe in their own homelands, under their own laws, in possession of their own livelihoods, their sacred things, and their tombs, may I alone be cast out, just as this stone is now."

And having said this, he throws the stone from his hand.

Chapter 26 Philinus and the Treaties

Since such treaties exist, and are still preserved even now, engraved on bronze tablets beside the temple of Jupiter Capitolinus in the treasury of the aediles, who would not reasonably feel astonishment at the historian Philinus? Not because he was ignorant of these documents—that is no wonder, since even in our own day the oldest men among both the Romans and the Carthaginians, and those reputed to take the greatest interest in public affairs, were unaware of them— but rather, how or on what grounds did he have the boldness to write the very opposite of these facts: namely, that there existed treaties between the Romans and the Carthaginians by which the Romans were bound to keep away from the whole of Sicily and the Carthaginians from the whole of Italy, and that the Romans violated the treaties and their oaths when they made their first crossing into Sicily—when in fact no such written document was ever drawn up or ever existed at all.

For he states this in his second book in explicit terms. I mentioned these matters in the introductory part of my own work, but I deferred treating them in detail until the present occasion, because a good many people too have been led away from the truth in this matter by trusting Philinus's account.

Nevertheless, if anyone finds fault with the Romans on this point regarding the crossing into Sicily—because they took the Mamertines into their friendship at all, and then, when these men asked for it, came to their aid, men who had broken faith not only with the city of the Messenians but also with that of the Rhegians—he might with reason appear to be displeased.

But if anyone supposes that they made the crossing in violation of their oaths and treaties, he is plainly mistaken.

Chapter 27 The Fourth Treaty

When the war over Sicily had been brought to an end, then, they made another treaty, in which the essential points of the written terms were these:

“The Carthaginians shall withdraw from the whole of Sicily and from all the islands lying between Italy and Sicily. Security shall be guaranteed by each side to the allies of the other.

Neither side shall impose any orders, nor erect any public buildings, nor recruit mercenaries, nor take into alliance the allies of the other, within the other’s domains.

The Carthaginians shall pay out two thousand two hundred talents within ten years, and shall hand over a thousand at once.

The Carthaginians shall return all their prisoners to the Romans without ransom.”

After this, again, when the Libyan (Mercenary) war had ended, the Romans, having declared war on the Carthaginians to the point of a formal decree, made additional terms of the following kind:

“The Carthaginians shall withdraw from Sardinia and pay an additional twelve hundred talents,” as we stated above.

In addition to the foregoing, the last of the agreements were the ones concluded with Hasdrubal in Iberia, to the effect that “the Carthaginians shall not cross the river Ebro with arms.” These were the legal obligations between the Romans and the Carthaginians from the beginning down to the times of Hannibal.

Chapter 28 No Reasonable Pretext for Rome to Claim Sardinia

Just as, then, we find that the Romans’ crossing into Sicily was not made in violation of their oaths, so too, in the case of the second war—the one in connection with which they made the treaty concerning Sardinia—one could find neither a reasonable pretext nor a just cause, but rather it is generally agreed that the Carthaginians, contrary to all justice, were forced by their circumstances to withdraw from Sardinia and to pay out the sum of money mentioned above.

For the charge brought by the Romans on this matter—that the Carthaginians had wronged Roman seafarers during the Libyan war—had already been settled at the time when, after recovering from the Carthaginians all those who had been carried off, the Romans in return, as a favor, gave back without ransom the prisoners they held.

I have set out these matters in detail in the book before this one.

Since this is how things stand, it remains to examine and determine carefully, concerning the war of Hannibal’s time, to which of the two parties the responsibility for it is to be assigned.

Chapter 29 The Roman Case For War

I have now set out what the Carthaginians said on that occasion; next I will give the arguments put forward by the Romans. They did not in fact make use of these at the time, because of their anger at the destruction of Saguntum, but the arguments were voiced often and by many men among them.

First, they said that the agreement made with Hasdrubal could not be set aside, as the Carthaginians presumed to claim it could. For it did not include the clause—

—that the treaty of Lutatius had included, namely that "these terms shall be binding only if the Roman people also approve them." Instead, Hasdrubal made the agreement on his own full authority, and in it stood the provision that "the Carthaginians shall not cross the river Ebro for the purpose of war."

Furthermore, in the treaty concerning Sicily there was a written clause—as the Carthaginians themselves admit—that "the allies of each party shall enjoy security from the other." This did not apply only to those who were allies at that time, as the Carthaginians construed it.

For if it had, there would have been an added clause either forbidding each side to take on additional allies beyond those they already had, or excluding from these terms any allies acquired later.

But since neither of these was written in, it was plain that all the allies of both parties—both those existing at the time and those to be taken on afterward—were always to enjoy security from both sides.

And this surely seems entirely reasonable. For they were hardly going to make a treaty that stripped them of their own freedom to take on, as occasions arose, any who might prove to be suitable friends and allies; nor, having taken such people under their protection, would they then stand by and watch them be wronged by anyone.

Rather, the gist of what both parties had in mind in the treaty was this: with regard to the allies that both sides already had, each would keep its hands off them and in no way receive any of the other's allies into its own alliance; and with regard to those who would be taken on later, the point was precisely the same—that neither side should recruit mercenaries or levy contributions in the other's provinces and allied territories, and that all should enjoy security from both sides.

Chapter 30 Both Sides Are in the Wrong

Given that this was the situation, it was also a matter of agreement that the Saguntines had placed themselves under Roman protection many years before the time of Hannibal.

The clearest proof of this—and one acknowledged even by the Carthaginians themselves—was that when the Saguntines fell into civil strife among themselves, they entrusted the matter not to the Carthaginians, although these were close at hand and were already active in Iberia, but to the Romans, and through them they set their political affairs right.

Therefore, if one regards the destruction of Saguntum as the cause of the war, it must be granted that the Carthaginians began the war unjustly—both in light of the treaty of Lutatius, under which the allies of each party were to have security from the other, and in light of the treaty of Hasdrubal, under which the Carthaginians were not to cross the river Ebro for the purpose of war.

But if one regards the seizure of Sardinia and the money exacted along with it as the cause, then it must be fully admitted that the Carthaginians had good reason for waging the Hannibalian war: for having yielded to circumstance at the time, they took the opportunity, when circumstance favored them, to defend themselves against those who had injured them.

Chapter 31 The Value of Such Discussions

Some who consider such matters without discernment might perhaps say that there is no real need for us to go into such precise detail about arguments of this kind.

For my part, if anyone supposed himself to be self-sufficient in the face of every circumstance, I would say that knowledge of the past, while a fine thing, is perhaps not essential.

But since no human being would dare to make such a claim about either his private or his public affairs—because even if he is prosperous in the present, no one of sound mind can reasonably guarantee anything about the future on the basis of the present—then for these reasons I say that knowledge of the past is not only a fine thing, but all the more essential.

For how could a man—whether wronged himself or with his country being wronged—find helpers and allies, or, if he were eager to gain something and take the initiative, rouse others to join him in his undertakings?

And how, if he were content with the present state of affairs, could he rightly spur on those who would secure his policy and preserve the established order, if he knew nothing from the record of what each party had done in the past?

For with an eye always to the present, everyone adapts and plays a part, saying and doing such things that each man's true purpose is hard to discern, and in many cases the truth is heavily obscured.

But the deeds of the past, which are tested by the facts themselves, truly reveal the choices and judgments of each person, and show us among whom we have gratitude, kindness, and aid to expect, and among whom the opposite.

From this record one can often find, in many situations, the man who will show pity, the man who will share our indignation, and the man who will see justice done.

These things offer the greatest help, both to communities and to individuals, in human life.

This is why neither those who write history nor those who read it should concern themselves so much with the bare narrative of the events themselves as with what preceded, accompanied, and followed

them.

For if you take away from history the why, the how, and the purpose for which something was done, and whether its outcome was reasonable, what is left of it becomes a mere display rather than a lesson; and though it gives pleasure for the moment, it is of no use whatever for the future.

Chapter 32 This History is Not Difficult to Understand

We must regard those who suppose that my work is hard to acquire and hard to read through, on account of the number and bulk of its books, as simply mistaken.

For how much easier is it both to obtain and to read through forty books—woven together, as it were, on a single thread—and to follow clearly the events in Italy, Sicily, and Libya from the time of Pyrrhus down to the capture of Carthage, and those in the rest of the world, in unbroken sequence from the flight of Cleomenes the Spartan down to the engagement between the Achaeans and the Romans at the Isthmus—how much easier than to read or to acquire the separate compositions of those who write only of particular events?

For, quite apart from the fact that such works are many times more numerous than my own treatise, it is impossible for their readers to grasp anything from them with any certainty: first, because most of these writers do not give the same account of the same events, and next, because they leave out the events that run parallel to one another in time—events which, when set side by side and viewed and compared together, lead each to a quite different verdict than they receive under piecemeal treatment —while of the most decisive matters these writers cannot even take hold at all.

For we maintain that by far the most essential parts of history are the consequences that follow upon actions, the circumstances that accompany them, and above all the matter of their causes.

Thus we observe that the war with Antiochus took its origin from the war with Philip, the war with Philip from the war with Hannibal, and the war with Hannibal from the war over Sicily; and that the many and varied developments that lay between these wars all converged upon one and the same end.

Now all of this can be recognized and learned from those who write universal history, but it cannot be learned from those who write of the wars themselves in isolation—the Persian War, say, or the war with Philip— unless a man, by reading the accounts of the pitched battles that those writers give, imagines that he has thereby gained a clear understanding of the whole conduct and design of the war.

But that is not so at all. Rather, by as much as understanding surpasses mere hearing, by so much, I hold, does my history surpass the compositions that treat only of particular events.

Chapter 33 Hannibal's Preparations

As for the Roman envoys—for it was at this point that we broke off into our digression—when they had heard out the case of the Carthaginians, they said nothing further, except that the eldest of them, pointing to the fold of his toga before the council, declared that there in it he carried both war and peace for them, and that he would shake out and leave behind whichever of the two they should bid him.

The king of the Carthaginians told him to shake out whichever of the two seemed good to the Romans.

And when the Roman said that he would shake out war, many of those in the council cried out together that they accepted it. On these terms the envoys and the council parted.

Hannibal, meanwhile, while wintering at New Carthage, first dismissed the Iberians to their own cities, wishing them to be ready and eager for what was to come.

Secondly, he gave instructions to his brother Hasdrubal as to how he should manage the government and dominion over Iberia, and conduct the preparations against the Romans, in case he himself should be away somewhere.

Thirdly, he took thought beforehand for the security of affairs in Libya.

Reasoning with great experience and prudence, he transferred soldiers from Libya into Iberia and from Iberia into Libya, binding fast the loyalty of each group toward the other through this arrangement.

Those who crossed over into Libya were the Thersitae, the Mastiani, and besides these the Oretes (an Iberian people) and the Olcades—altogether from these nations twelve hundred cavalry and thirteen thousand eight hundred and fifty infantry, and in addition eight hundred and seventy Balearic men, whom they properly call slingers, and from this very function the people themselves and their island take their shared name.

Of the troops just mentioned, he stationed the greater part in Metagonia in Libya, and some in Carthage itself.

From the cities of the people called the Metagonians he sent another four thousand infantry to Carthage, who served at once as hostages and as a body of reinforcement.

In Iberia he left with his brother Hasdrubal fifty quinqueremes, two quadriremes, and five triremes—of these, thirty-two of the quinqueremes were furnished with crews, and all five of the triremes.

There were also cavalry: four hundred and fifty Libyophoenicians and Libyans, three hundred Lergetes, and eighteen hundred Numidians of the Masylii, Masaesylii, Maccoei, and Maurusii who dwell along the Ocean; and infantry: eleven thousand eight hundred and fifty Libyans, three hundred Ligurians, five hundred Balearic Islanders, and twenty-one elephants.

No one should be surprised at the precision of this enumeration—if I have used a precision concerning Hannibal's operations in Iberia such as a man would scarcely employ even of matters he had managed

himself in detail—nor should anyone condemn me beforehand for behaving like those historians who lie plausibly.

For I myself found this record set down on a bronze tablet at Lacinium, drawn up by Hannibal during the period when he was operating in the regions of Italy, and I judged it to be entirely trustworthy, at least for such matters; and therefore I chose to follow this record.

Chapter 34 Hannibal Contacts the Gauls

Hannibal, having taken every precaution for the security of affairs both in Libya and in Iberia, now waited expectantly for the messengers being sent to him from the Gauls.

For he had clearly informed himself of the excellence of the land at the foot of the Alps and around the river Po, of the multitude of those who inhabited it, and further of the men's daring in war, and—most important of all—of the hostility they bore toward the Romans from the earlier war, which I described in the book before this one, so that those who read might be able to follow what is now about to be told.

He therefore clung to this hope and promised everything, sending careful messages to the chieftains of the Gauls, both those on the near side of the Alps and those dwelling in the Alps themselves, since he believed that he could establish the war against the Romans within Italy only if he could pass through the difficult country that lay before him, reach the regions just mentioned, and make use of the Gauls as helpers and allies for the undertaking he had in view.

When the messengers arrived and reported the willingness and expectation of the Gauls, and declared that the crossing of the Alpine mountains, though very toilsome and difficult, was nevertheless not impossible, he gathered his forces from their winter quarters at the approach of spring.

Since the news from Carthage had also just reached him, his spirit was raised, and, trusting in the goodwill of his fellow citizens, he now openly summoned his forces to the war against the Romans.

He set before them how the Romans had ventured to demand his own surrender and that of all the commanders of the army, and he pointed out the excellence of the country to which they were going, and the goodwill and alliance of the Gauls.

When the troops eagerly rallied to his side, he praised them, named a fixed day on which he would make the departure, and for the moment dismissed the assembly.

Chapter 35 Hannibal Crosses the Pyrenees

Having carried out the measures described during the winter quarters, and having provided sufficient security for affairs both in Libya and in Iberia, when the appointed day came he set out, with about ninety thousand infantry and around twelve thousand cavalry.

Crossing the river Ebro, he subdued the nation of the Ilurgetes and the Bargusii, and also the Aerenosii and the Andosini, as far as the place called the Pyrenees.

When he had brought all of them under his control and taken some cities by storm—quickly and beyond expectation, but only after many great struggles and heavy loss of men— he left Hanno as governor over all the country on the near side of the river, and as master over the Bargusii in particular; for he distrusted these people most of all, on account of their goodwill toward the Romans.

He also assigned to Hanno a portion of the forces he had: ten thousand infantry and a thousand cavalry, and he left with him the baggage of those who were setting out with himself.

He sent home an equal number to the troops just mentioned, wishing both to leave these men well disposed toward him and to hold out to the rest a hope of returning home—both to the Iberians serving in his own army and, no less, to those remaining at home—so that all might set out eagerly should there ever be need of reinforcement from them.

Taking up the rest of his army, lightly equipped—fifty thousand infantry and close to nine thousand cavalry—he led them through the mountains called the Pyrenees toward the crossing of the river called the Rhone, having a force not so much large as serviceable and exceptionally well trained from the continuous fighting in Iberia.

Chapter 36 Geography of Hannibal's March

So that my account may not become entirely obscure through ignorance of the localities involved, I ought to state from where Hannibal set out, through which regions—and how many of them—he passed, and into which parts of Italy he came down.

But I should not merely cite the bare names of the places, rivers, and cities, as some historians do, supposing that this alone is enough in every case to produce knowledge and clarity.

In my view, where places are already familiar, the listing of their names contributes something—and indeed a great deal—toward recollection; but where they are unknown, reciting their names has in the end no more force than meaningless, jangling noises.

For when the mind has nothing to fasten upon and cannot fit what is said onto anything familiar, the narrative becomes ungraspable and dead.

We must therefore point out a method by which it will be possible, in speaking of unknown places, to lead our listeners to some degree toward genuine and recognizable ideas.

The first and most important means of knowledge, and one moreover that is common to all people, is the division and ordering of the heaven that surrounds us, by which all of us who are worth anything at all recognize east, west, south, and north.

Chapter 37 Three Geographic Divisions of the World

The second is that, by assigning the regions of the earth to each of these distinctions and always carrying in our minds whatever is mentioned onto one of the directions named above, we arrive at familiar and customary notions about things unknown and unseen. Now that these matters have been laid down concerning the earth as a whole, it follows that we should divide up the inhabited world that is ours by the same principle and bring it to our listeners' attention.

This world is divided into three parts with three names: one part of it they call Asia, the second Libya, and the third Europe.

The boundaries that separate these are the river Don, the Nile, and the strait at the Pillars of Heracles.

Asia, then, happens to lie between the Nile and the Don, and falls within that span of the surrounding heaven that lies between the summer sunrise (northeast) and the south.

Libya lies between the Nile and the Pillars of Heracles, and falls within the southern portion of the heaven and, continuously, within the region of the winter sunset (southwest), as far as the equinoctial setting point, which falls at the Pillars of Heracles.

These two regions, then, viewed in broad terms, occupy the southern zone of our sea, running from east toward west.

Europe lies opposite both of them, facing toward the north, and stretches continuously from east to west.

Its largest and deepest portion lies directly beneath the north, between the river Don and the Narbo—a river not far to the west of Marseilles and of the mouths of the Rhone, through which the aforesaid river empties into the Sardinian Sea.

From the Narbo and the surrounding country the Gauls dwell, as far as the mountains called the Pyrenees, which extend without a break from our sea to the outer sea.

The remaining part of Europe, from those mountains onward—the part adjoining the west and the Pillars of Heracles—is enclosed by our sea and the outer sea; and the portion stretching along our sea as far as the Pillars of Heracles is called Iberia, while the portion lying along the outer sea, which is called the Great Sea, has no common name, because it has only recently been explored.

Chapter 38 Unknown Areas in the North and the South

It is inhabited entirely by barbarous and populous peoples, about whom I will give a detailed account later on. Just as, in the case of Asia and Libya, where they border on each other in the region of Ethiopia, no one down to our own day can say with certainty whether the land toward the south is one continuous mainland or is bounded by the sea, so too the country that runs up toward the north

between the Don and the Narbo remains unknown to us until now—unless, by some later inquiry, we investigate it.

And anyone who says or writes anything about these regions otherwise must be regarded as ignorant and as spinning fables.

Let this much, then, be said by me so that my narrative may not be wholly unintelligible to those unacquainted with the localities, but so that, at least in terms of the broad distinctions, they may grasp something and refer what is said to some point in their minds, judging from the surrounding heaven.

Chapter 39 The Length of Hannibal's March

For just as, in the matter of sight, we are accustomed always to turn our faces toward whatever is being pointed out to us, so too with the mind we must constantly direct and incline our thoughts toward the places pointed out along with the account as it proceeds. But I will set these matters aside and turn back to the continuous thread of the narrative before me.

At this time the Carthaginians were masters of all those parts of Libya that face the inner sea, from the Altars of Philaenus, which lie along the Great Syrtis, as far as the Pillars of Heracles.

This stretch of coastline is more than sixteen thousand stades in length.

Having crossed the strait at the Pillars of Heracles, they had likewise gained control of all Iberia as far as the headland on our sea where the Pyrenees range comes to an end—the mountains that form the boundary between the Iberians and the Gauls.

This place is about eight thousand stades distant from the mouth at the Pillars of Heracles.

For the distance from the Pillars to New Town happens to be three thousand stades—this was the base from which Hannibal launched his expedition into Italy (some people call New Town "New Carthage") —and from there to the river Ebro it is two thousand six hundred stades; from that river again to Emporium is one thousand six hundred, and from the city of Emporium to […] is about six hundred, and from there on to the crossing of the Rhone is about one thousand six hundred. (These distances have now been carefully measured out and marked by the Romans in segments of eight stades.)

From the crossing of the Rhone, for those marching alongside the river itself toward its sources up to the start of the ascent into the Alps that leads into Italy, it is one thousand four hundred stades.

What remains are the passes over the Alps themselves, about one thousand two hundred stades; once he had crossed these, he would arrive in the plains around the Po in Italy.

So that the whole distance he had to traverse from New Town was about nine thousand stades.

Of this territory he had by now covered nearly half in terms of sheer distance, but in terms of difficulty the greater part of the march still lay ahead of him.

Chapter 40 Gauls Attack the Military Colonies

Hannibal, then, set about forcing the passes over the Pyrenees, full of fear of the Gauls because of the strength of the terrain.

The Romans, meanwhile, at this same period had heard from the envoys they had sent to Carthage both the decisions reached and the words that had been spoken; and when news fell upon them, sooner than they expected, that Hannibal had crossed the river Ebro with his army, they resolved to send Publius Cornelius with legions into Iberia, and Tiberius Sempronius into Libya.

While these commanders were busy with the enrolment of their legions and the rest of their preparations, the people pressed on to bring to completion the work of the colonies which they had earlier resolved to send out into Gaul.

They fortified the towns vigorously, and ordered the settlers to be on the spot within thirty days, their number amounting to six thousand for each of the two cities; one of these they founded on the near side of the river Po, naming it Placentia, and the other on the far side, calling it Cremona.

These colonies had just been settled when the Gauls called the Boii—who had long been lying in wait, as it were, to throw off their friendship with the Romans, but had until then lacked an opportunity—now grew excited and, trusting in the presence of the Carthaginians on the strength of the reports passing among them, revolted from the Romans, abandoning the hostages they had given when they came out of the earlier war, which I described in the previous book.

They appealed to the Insubres and, joining forces in keeping with their long-standing anger, overran the land that had been parcelled out by the Romans; pursuing the fleeing colonists, they shut them up in Mutina, a Roman colony, and laid siege to it.

Among those they trapped inside were three distinguished men who had been sent out to divide up the land: one of these was Gaius Lutatius, who had held the consulship, and the other two had held the praetorship (the office of the six axes).

When these men thought it necessary to come to a parley with them, the Boii agreed. But when the men came out, the Boii violated the truce and seized them, hoping by their means to recover their own hostages.

Lucius Manlius, who was a praetor stationed in the area with an army, heard what had happened and hurried to the rescue.

The Boii, learning of his approach, prepared ambushes in some woods, and as soon as he had entered the wooded ground they fell upon him from all sides at once and killed many of the Romans.

The survivors at first rushed to flee, but once they reached open ground they pulled themselves together to such a degree that they managed, with difficulty, to make an orderly withdrawal. The Boii, however, followed close behind and shut these men too up in the village called Tannes.

When news reached Rome that the fourth legion was surrounded by the Boii and being besieged with full force, they hastily dispatched the legions that had been assigned to Publius to the relief of these men, putting a praetor in command of them, and they instructed Publius to gather and enrol other legions from among the allies.

Chapter 41 The Consuls Set Out to Iberia and Libya

Such, then, was the state of Gallic affairs from the beginning down to the arrival of Hannibal, and they had reached the outcome that I have described both earlier and now.

The Roman commanders, having made ready everything for their own undertakings, set sail at the start of the season for the operations before them—Publius to Iberia with sixty ships, and Tiberius Sempronius to Libya with a hundred and sixty quinqueremes.

With these he set out to wage war so formidably and made such preparations at Lilybaeum—mustering everyone from every quarter—as though he meant to lay siege to Carthage itself the moment he landed.

Publius, sailing along the Ligurian coast, came on the fifth day from Pisae to the region around Massalia, and, anchoring off the first mouth of the Rhone, the one called the Massaliote mouth, he began disembarking his forces. He had heard that Hannibal was already crossing the Pyrenees, but he was convinced that he was still far off, both because of the difficulty of the terrain and because of the multitude of Gauls lying between them.

Hannibal, however, contrary to expectation, partly winning over the Gauls with money and partly forcing his way through them, arrived with his forces at the crossing of the Rhone, keeping the Sardinian Sea on his right.

When it was made clear to Publius that the enemy were at hand, he partly disbelieved it because of the speed of their arrival and partly wished to learn the precise truth; so while he himself let his troops recover from the voyage and deliberated with the tribunes about which ground to use and how to engage the enemy, he sent out three hundred of his most courageous cavalry, attaching to them as both guides and supporting fighters some Gauls who happened to be serving as mercenaries with the Massaliotes.

Chapter 42 The Passage of the Rhone

Hannibal, on reaching the region of the river, at once set about making the crossing where the stream runs in a single channel, his camp being about four days' march from the sea.

Making friends in every way with the people living along the river, he bought up from them all their dugout boats and small craft, which were plentiful in number because many of those dwelling beside the Rhone engage in seaborne trade.

He also obtained from them suitable timber for the construction of dugouts, so that within two days a countless number of transport boats was produced, each man eager not to depend on his neighbour but to hold in his own hands his hopes of getting across.

At this time a host of barbarians had gathered on the far bank in order to prevent the Carthaginians from crossing.

Looking at them, Hannibal reasoned from the present circumstances that it was impossible either to force a crossing with so many enemies posted opposite, or to wait where he was, for fear of being attacked by the enemy from every side; so when the third night came on he sent off a part of his force, providing them with local guides and placing over them all Hanno, the son of Bomilcar the king.

These men marched up against the current along the river for two hundred stades, and when they reached a certain place where the river happened to divide around an island-like piece of ground, they halted there.

From the woodland close at hand, by fastening some pieces of timber together and lashing others, they constructed in a short time many rafts, sufficient for their immediate need; on these they crossed over safely, with no one to stop them.

Seizing a strong position, they stayed there that day to rest from their recent hardships, while at the same time making preparations for the task to come, according to their orders.

Hannibal, for his part, was doing much the same with the forces left behind with him.

The greatest difficulty he faced was getting the elephants across; these numbered thirty-seven.

Chapter 43 Hannibal's Troops Begin to Cross

When the fifth night had come, the detachment that had crossed earlier set out from the far bank at dawn and advanced along the river itself against the barbarians on the opposite side.

Hannibal, meanwhile, with his soldiers ready, was poised to begin the crossing. He had loaded the larger boats with the shield-bearing cavalry and the dugout canoes with the most agile of his infantry.

The larger boats took up position upstream and against the current, while the lighter craft were stationed below them, so that, with the larger boats absorbing most of the force of the stream, the passage across the channel would be safer for the canoes.

They planned to tow the horses swimming behind the sterns of the boats, with one man on each side of the stern steering three or four at once by their lead-ropes, so that a sufficient number of horses could be ferried across together with the very first crossing.

The barbarians, watching the enemy's maneuver, poured out of their stockade in disorder and scattered groups, convinced that they would easily prevent the Carthaginians from landing.

But as soon as Hannibal saw that his own men on the far side were now drawing near—they had signaled their arrival with smoke, as had been arranged—he gave the order for everyone to embark at once, and for those manning the craft to push hard against the current.

This was done quickly, and the men in the boats raced one another with loud shouts, struggling against the force of the river.

The two armies stood drawn up along the banks of the river on either side: Hannibal's own men sharing in the struggle and following its course with shouts, while the barbarians facing them chanted their war cries and dared them to the fight. The whole scene was astonishing and charged with suspense.

At this moment, when the barbarians had abandoned their tents, the Carthaginians from the far side fell upon them suddenly and unexpectedly. Some of them set fire to the encampment, while the greater number rushed against those who were guarding the crossing.

The barbarians, finding the situation utterly unexpected, split: some hurried to the tents to defend them, while others fought back and grappled with the attackers.

Hannibal, with events falling out just as he had planned, immediately formed up the first men as they landed, rallied them with encouragement, and engaged the barbarians.

The Gauls, both because of their disorder and because of the unexpected turn of events, were quickly routed and broke into flight.

Chapter 44 Hannibal Addresses His Men

The Carthaginian commander, having now mastered both the crossing and his opponents, at once turned to ferrying over the men still left on the far bank.

When he had brought all his forces across in a short time, he made camp for that night beside the river itself.

The next day, hearing that the Roman fleet had anchored off the mouths of the river, he picked out five hundred Numidian cavalry and sent them off to discover where the enemy were, how many they numbered, and what they were doing.

At the same time he also detailed suitable men to handle the crossing of the elephants.

Then he himself gathered his forces and brought forward the chieftains in Magilus's company—for these had come to him from the plains around the Po—and through an interpreter explained to the troops the decisions these men had reached.

Of what was said, the strongest grounds for confidence among the rank and file were, first, the plain fact of the presence of these envoys, who were urging them on and pledging to share in the war against

Rome; second, the trustworthiness of their promise that they would guide the army through such country that, without lacking any of their necessities, they would make their march into Italy both swiftly and safely; and besides this, the richness and the vast size of the land they were going to reach, and furthermore the eagerness of the men alongside whom they were about to wage their battles against the Roman forces.

So, having spoken to this effect, the Gauls withdrew.

After them Hannibal himself came forward and first reminded the troops of their past achievements: in these, he said, though they had undertaken many bold actions and dangers, they had failed in none, so long as they had followed his judgment and counsel.

Next he urged them to be of good courage, seeing that the greatest part of their task had been accomplished, since they had now mastered the crossing of the river and had seen with their own eyes the goodwill and eagerness of their allies.

For this reason he told them not to trouble themselves about the details, as those were his concern, but to obey his commands and so prove themselves brave men, worthy of their past deeds.

When the men responded with approval and showed great drive and enthusiasm, he praised them, prayed to the gods on behalf of them all, and dismissed them, ordering them to look after themselves and to make their preparations with all speed, since the march would begin the next day.

Chapter 45 Skirmish between Reconnoitring Parties

When the assembly had broken up, the Numidians who had been sent ahead to reconnoiter returned, having lost most of their number, while the rest had fled headlong.

For not far from their own camp they had collided with the Roman cavalry that Publius had dispatched on the same errand, and both sides showed such fierce determination in the clash that of the Romans and Gauls about a hundred and forty horsemen were killed, and of the Numidians more than two hundred.

After this, the Romans, having pressed close to the Carthaginian stockade in their pursuit and reconnoitered it, turned back and hurried away to report the enemy's presence to their commander; and when they reached their own camp, they delivered their report.

Publius at once loaded his baggage onto the ships, set out with his whole army, and advanced along the river, eager to engage the enemy.

Hannibal, on the day following the assembly, stationed all his cavalry at first light facing toward the sea, holding them in reserve, and moved his infantry force out of the stockade onto the march.

He himself waited behind for the elephants and the men who had been left with them.

Chapter 46 The Crossing of the Elephants

The way the animals were ferried across was roughly this. They built a number of rafts, sturdily put together, and lashed two of these firmly to one another, then anchored both against the ground at the point where the river was to be entered. Together the two had a width of about fifty feet.

To these they joined still others on the outer side and fitted them on, extending the structure of the joined platform out into the channel.

The side facing the current they secured with cables run to the land, fastening them to the trees growing along the bank, so that the whole work would hold together and not be pushed downstream by the river.

When they had made the entire projecting platform about two hundred feet long, they then attached to the outermost rafts two others that had been built especially large. These were bound tightly to the platform's end but connected to the rest only by ties that could be easily cut through. To these last rafts they also fastened several towlines, with which the boats, towing them, were meant to keep them from being carried off downstream, and instead, holding them by force against the current, were to bring them along and ferry the animals across on them.

After this they heaped a great deal of earth onto all the rafts, piling it on until they had made the surface match, level and the same color as the road that led over dry land to the crossing.

The animals were trained to obey their Indian handlers right up to the water's edge, but would no longer dare in any way to step into the water. So they led them across over the bank of earth, putting two females in front, with the animals following them obediently.

Once the elephants had been brought onto the outermost rafts, the men cut through the ties by which these were attached to the rest, hauled in the towlines with the boats, and quickly pulled both the animals and the rafts beneath them away from the earthen ramp.

When this happened, the beasts, thrown into a panic, at first turned about and rushed in every direction; but, hemmed in on all sides by the current, they grew too frightened to act and were forced to stay where they were.

And it was in just this way, by always attaching a fresh pair of rafts, that most of the animals were carried across.

A few, however, in the middle of the crossing flung themselves into the river out of fear. Of these, all the Indians happened to perish, but the elephants were saved.

For thanks to the strength and length of their trunks, they raised them above the water and breathed through them, while at the same time blowing out everything that got in, and so held out, making most of their way upright along the river bottom.

Chapter 47 Earlier Accounts of the March False or Inconsistent

Once the animals had been ferried over, Hannibal took up the elephants and the cavalry and advanced with them as a rearguard along the river, away from the sea and toward the east, making his march as though heading for the interior of Europe.

The Rhone has its sources above the head of the Adriatic Gulf, inclining toward the west, in the parts of the Alps that slope toward the north; it flows toward the winter sunset, and empties into the Sardinian Sea.

It runs for a long way through a valley, to the north of which dwell the Ardyan Gauls, while the entire southern side of it is bounded by the foothills of the Alps that incline toward the north. As for the plains around the Po, about which I have already spoken at some length, the ridges of the aforementioned mountains separate them from the valley of the Rhone; these ridges take their beginning at Massalia and run as far as the head of the whole Adriatic.

It was these that Hannibal then crossed over, passing from the region of the Rhone into Italy.

Some of those who have written about this crossing, in their wish to astonish their readers with marvelous tales about the places mentioned, fall without realizing it into two errors that are more foreign than anything else to all sound history: for they are driven both to tell falsehoods and to write things that contradict themselves.

For on the one hand they bring Hannibal on stage as an inimitable general, both in daring and in foresight, while at the same time they demonstrate to us, by their own account, that he was utterly devoid of judgment; and on the other hand, being unable to find any resolution or way out of their falsehood, they bring gods and the sons of gods into what is supposed to be factual history.

For having laid it down that the strongholds and ruggedness of the Alpine mountains were such that not only horses and armies, and with them elephants, but not even lightly armed infantry could easily get through; and likewise having sketched the wilderness of those regions as so complete that, unless some god or hero had met Hannibal's men and shown them the roads, they would all have been at a total loss and perished—on both these counts they manifestly fall into the two errors mentioned above.

Chapter 48 Absurd Premises of Other Historians

For, in the first place, what general could be shown to be more devoid of judgment than Hannibal, what commander more inept, if, leading forces so large and resting his greatest hopes of overall success on them, he knew, as these writers claim, neither the roads nor the country, neither where he was going at all nor against whom, and, to crown it, not even whether what he was attempting was generally possible?

What men who have utterly failed and are at their wits' end in every way will not bring themselves to do—namely, to plunge into unscouted country with an army—this the writers attribute to Hannibal,

who held the greatest hopes for his cause entirely unimpaired.

Likewise their account of the desolation, and further of the ruggedness and difficulty of the terrain, makes their falsehood plain.

For they failed to inquire into the fact that the Gauls living along the Rhone, not once nor twice before Hannibal's arrival—and not in the distant past but quite recently—had crossed the Alps with great armies, drawn up against the Romans and fought alongside the Gauls inhabiting the plains around the Po, as I have shown in the earlier parts of this work; and besides this, they did not know that a very large tribe of people happens to live in the Alps themselves. Instead, ignorant of every one of the things I have mentioned, they claim that some hero appeared and pointed out the roads to them.

By this they naturally fall into the same case as the writers of tragedy. For with all of those, the denouements of their dramas require a god and a stage machine, because the initial premises they adopt are false and irrational; and so historians too must suffer and do the same—bringing on heroes and gods to appear—once they have set up beginnings that are implausible and false. For how is it possible to set a reasonable ending upon irrational beginnings?

Hannibal, at any rate, did not act as these men write; on the contrary, he handled his designs in these matters with great practical sense.

For he had clearly investigated both the fertility of the land into which he intended to descend and the hostility of its peoples toward the Romans, and for the difficult ground that lay between he employed local guides and leaders who were going to share in the same hopes as himself.

I speak about these things with confidence because I have inquired into the events from men who were themselves present at the time, and have surveyed the country and used the Alpine route myself, for the sake of knowledge and of seeing it firsthand.

Chapter 49 Scipio Is Too Late To Stop Hannibal

Nevertheless, Publius, the Roman general, arriving at the river crossing three days after the Carthaginians had broken camp, and finding that the enemy had already set out, was as thoroughly astonished as could be, since he had been convinced that they would never dare to make their march into Italy by this route, because of the numbers and the faithlessness of the barbarians inhabiting those regions.

But seeing that they had in fact dared it, he hurried back to his ships, and on arriving began to embark his forces.

He sent his brother off to handle affairs in Iberia, while he himself turned back and made the voyage to Italy, eager to outpace the enemy by going through Etruria to the crossing of the Alps.

Hannibal, meanwhile, after marching four days in succession from the crossing, came to the place called the Island, a populous and grain-bearing district that takes its name from the very circumstance of its situation.

For where the Rhone runs along one side and the river called the Isère along the other, flowing past on each flank, they bring its shape to a point at the place where they converge with each other.

It is similar in size and shape to what is called the Delta in Egypt, except that in the Delta the sea joins together its one side and the mouths of the rivers, whereas here that side is closed off by mountains hard to approach, hard to enter, and, one might almost say, inaccessible.

On reaching this district, he found in it two brothers quarreling over the kingship and encamped against each other with their armies.

When the elder courted him and called on him to join in helping him secure the throne, [...] he agreed, since the advantage this would bring him for the present was almost obvious.

And so, by joining the attack and helping to drive out the other brother, he gained much assistance from the victor.

For this man not only supplied the army lavishly with grain and the other provisions, but also exchanged all their old and worn-out weapons and renewed the equipment of the whole force at an opportune moment; and further, by furnishing most of the men with clothing and, on top of that, with footwear, he provided great practical benefit for the crossings of the mountains.

But most important of all, since the Carthaginians were apprehensive about the march through the territory of the Gauls called Allobroges, he brought up the rear with his own force and secured them a safe passage until they drew near to the crossing of the Alps.

Chapter 50 Hannibal Harassed By the Natives

After marching for ten days along the river, covering some eight hundred stades, Hannibal began the climb up toward the Alps, and it was now that he fell into the gravest dangers.

For as long as the army was on level ground, all the local chieftains of the Allobroges held back from attacking, partly out of fear of the cavalry and partly because of the barbarians who were escorting the column. But once the escort had withdrawn to their own country, and Hannibal's forces began to push forward into the difficult terrain, the Allobrogian chieftains then mustered a sizable body of men and seized in advance the strategic positions through which Hannibal's troops were compelled to make their ascent.

Now if they had kept their plan hidden, they would have utterly destroyed the Carthaginian army. As it was, since they were spotted, they did indeed do serious harm to Hannibal's men, but they suffered no less themselves.

For once the Carthaginian general realized that the natives had occupied the advantageous positions ahead of him, he encamped at the foot of the pass and waited there, and he sent ahead some of the Gauls who were serving as his guides to scout out the enemy's intentions and their whole plan.

When these men had carried out their orders, the general learned that during the day the enemy kept careful watch and held the positions in force, but at night they withdrew to a nearby town. Adapting himself to this state of affairs, he devised the following scheme.

He took up his army and advanced openly, and on coming near the difficult ground he encamped not far from the enemy. When night fell, he ordered the watch-fires to be lit and left the greater part of his army where it was; then, taking the men best suited for the task and equipping them lightly, he passed through the narrow defiles during the night and occupied the positions the enemy had seized earlier, the barbarians having withdrawn to the town as was their custom.

Chapter 51 The Gauls Attack the Baggage Train

When this had happened and day broke, the barbarians saw what had occurred and at first gave up their attempt.

But afterward, watching the great mass of pack animals and the cavalry struggling to wind their way slowly through the difficult ground, they were drawn by the opportunity to fasten onto the column.

When they did so and the barbarians attacked at many points, the Carthaginians suffered heavy losses —not so much from the enemy as from the terrain itself, and above all among the horses and pack animals.

For the approach was not only narrow and rough but also flanked by sheer drops, so that at every disturbance or panic many of the pack animals were sent tumbling over the cliffs along with their loads.

It was the wounded horses most of all that caused this kind of chaos. Some of them, panicked by their wounds, would collide head-on with the pack animals, while others, charging forward, shoved aside everything in their path on the narrow ground, and so they created enormous confusion.

Watching all this, and reckoning that even those who survived the present danger could not be saved if the baggage train were destroyed, Hannibal took the men who had seized the heights during the night and rushed down to help those who had gone ahead on the march.

In doing so, since Hannibal was charging from higher ground, many of the enemy were killed—but no fewer of his own men perished as well, for the uproar along the column was now mounting on both sides because of the shouting and the clash described above.

But once he had killed most of the Allobroges and routed the rest, forcing them to flee back to their own land, the remaining mass of pack animals and horses then made its way through the difficult

ground, slowly and with great hardship.

Hannibal himself rallied as many men as he could after the engagement and assaulted the town from which the enemy had launched their attack.

Finding it nearly deserted, since everyone had been lured out after plunder, he took control of the town. From this he gained many things useful both for the moment and for the future.

For the immediate present he recovered a quantity of horses and pack animals along with the men captured with them, and for the future he secured a supply of grain and livestock enough for two or three days.

But the most important result was the fear he instilled in the tribes that came next, so that none of those living near the passes would readily dare to attack him.

Chapter 52 Treachery of the Gauls

For the time being, then, he made his camp on the spot, stayed for one day, and then set out again.

Over the following days he led the army on in safety for a while; but by the fourth day he once more found himself in great danger.

For the people living along his route, having conspired together with treacherous intent, came out to meet him carrying branches and garlands—which among nearly all the natives is a token of friendship, just as the herald's staff is among the Greeks.

Wary of trusting such assurances, Hannibal carefully questioned them about their intentions and their whole purpose.

They claimed to be well aware both of the town's capture and of the destruction of those who had tried to do him wrong, and they made clear that this was precisely why they had come: they wished neither to inflict nor to suffer any harm, and they even promised to hand over hostages from among themselves.

For a long time Hannibal remained cautious and distrustful of what they said. But reasoning that if he accepted their offer he might perhaps make these new arrivals more cautious and more peaceable, whereas if he refused he would have them as open enemies, he assented to their proposal and pretended to enter into friendship with them.

When the barbarians had handed over the hostages, supplied cattle in abundance, and altogether put themselves into his hands without reserve, Hannibal's men came to trust them to a certain extent—so much so that they even used them as guides for the difficult ground that lay ahead. But after these guides had led the way for two days, the people just mentioned gathered their forces, followed close behind, and attacked them in a certain gorge that was hard to pass and ringed with cliffs [...]

Chapter 53 The White Rock

While they were crossing, there came a moment when Hannibal's entire force would have been completely destroyed, had he not still been wary to some degree and, foreseeing what lay ahead, kept the baggage train and the cavalry in the vanguard and the heavy infantry in the rear.

Because these troops were posted as a rearguard, the damage that occurred was less severe, for they absorbed the onslaught of the barbarians.

Even so, despite this precaution, a great number of men, pack animals, and horses were destroyed.

For since the high ground was held by the enemy, the barbarians moved along the slopes parallel to the column, rolling rocks down on some and striking others at close range with stones, and so threw them into utter confusion and peril, to such a degree that Hannibal was forced to spend the night with half his force beside a certain fortified white rock, cut off from the horses and the pack animals, standing guard over them, until through the course of the whole night these were at last drawn out of the ravine with great difficulty.

The next day, once the enemy had withdrawn, he rejoined the cavalry and the pack animals and pushed on toward the highest passes of the Alps. He no longer ran into any large concentrated body of the barbarians, but was harassed by them piecemeal and from place to place.

Some of them, attacking from the rear and others from the front whenever the opportunity arose, would carry off part of the baggage. His elephants were of the greatest service to him in this: for at whatever point in the march these animals happened to be, the enemy did not dare to approach that part of the line, terrified by the strange sight of the creatures.

On the ninth day he reached the summit of the pass, encamped there, and remained for two days, wishing both to rest the survivors and to wait for the stragglers to catch up.

Chapter 54 The Descent Into Italy

During this time it happened that many of the horses that had bolted in panic and many of the pack animals that had thrown off their loads unexpectedly came back, having followed the tracks of the army, and rejoined the camp. By now, since the setting of the Pleiades was drawing near, the snow was already gathering on the peaks; and seeing his men in low spirits, both because of the hardship they had already endured and because of what they still expected to face, Hannibal tried to gather and encourage them, having one single resource for the purpose: the clear sight of Italy. For Italy lies so close beneath the mountains just mentioned that, when both are viewed together, the Alps appear to stand like a citadel over the whole of Italy.

Therefore, by pointing out to them the plains around the Po, and by reminding them in general of the goodwill of the Gauls who inhabited them, and at the same time indicating the location of Rome itself, he succeeded to some extent in restoring the men's confidence.

The next day he broke camp and began the descent. In the course of it he no longer encountered any enemy, except those who did damage by stealth, but because of the terrain and the snow he lost a number of men not much smaller than those he had lost on the ascent.

For since the descent was narrow and steep, and the snow made it impossible for each man to see where he was stepping, anyone who strayed from the path or slipped was carried over the cliffs.

Still, they endured this hardship, being by now accustomed to such troubles.

But when they came to a place that neither the elephants nor the pack animals could get past because of its narrowness—where the cliff face had fallen away for nearly a stade and a half, having been broken before but having now collapsed even more freshly—there once again the men fell into despair and confusion.

Chapter 55 Snow

At first the Carthaginian general attempted to go around the difficult ground; but when fresh snow fell and made this route also impossible to travel, he abandoned the attempt. For what was happening was peculiar and out of the ordinary. The new snow of that year had just fallen on top of the old snow, which had remained from the previous winter; the fresh snow was easy to cut through, both because it was recent and soft and because it had not yet gained any depth.

But once they had trodden through this and stepped onto the snow underneath, which had hardened, they no longer cut through it; instead they slid on the surface, both feet skidding at once, just as happens on level ground to people walking through mud.

And what followed from this was still more difficult.

For the men, being unable to break through the lower snow, whenever they fell and tried to brace themselves on their knees or hands in order to get up, only slid all the more, with every support giving way at once, since the ground sloped steeply downward.

The pack animals, on the other hand, when they fell, did break through the lower snow as they struggled to rise; but once they had broken through, they remained stuck there with their loads, as if frozen in place, both because of the weight and because of the firmness of the old snow underneath.

So, giving up this hope, he encamped on the ridge, clearing away the snow on it, and then set the men to work and, with great toil, built up a road along the cliff face.

For the pack animals and the horses he made a passage wide enough in a single day. He therefore led these across at once and, encamping at the spots that were already below the snow line, sent them off to pasture; while he brought up the Numidians in relays to work on the road, and only after three days of painful labor did he get the elephants across. These were in a wretched state from hunger, for the highest parts of the Alps and the areas reaching up toward the passes are entirely without trees and

completely bare, because the snow lies there continuously in both summer and winter, whereas the parts about halfway down the slopes, on both sides, are wooded, bear trees, and are altogether habitable.

Chapter 56 Hannibal Reaches the Plains

Hannibal then gathered his whole force together and continued the descent, and on the third day after passing the cliffs just described he reached the level country.

He had lost many of his soldiers to the enemy and at the river crossings during the march as a whole, and many more to the cliffs and difficult terrain in the Alps—not only men, but still greater numbers of horses and pack animals.

In the end, having made the entire march from New Carthage in five months, and the crossing of the Alps in fifteen days, he boldly descended into the plains around the Po and the territory of the Insubres, with the surviving portion of his army: twelve thousand Libyan infantry, about eight thousand Iberian infantry, and cavalry numbering altogether not more than six thousand, as he himself sets out on the inscribed column concerning his numbers at Lacinium.

At the same time, as I stated above, Publius, having left his forces to his brother Gnaeus and urged him to hold fast to affairs in Iberia and to wage war vigorously against Hasdrubal, sailed back himself with a few men to Pisae.

He then marched through Etruria, took over from the praetors the legions that were stationed there and campaigning against the Boii, and arrived at the plains around the Po; pitching his camp, he kept watch on the enemy, eager to engage them in battle.

Chapter 57 The Limits of History

Now that we have brought both the narrative and the commanders of both sides, along with the war itself, into Italy, I wish, before the battles begin, to discuss briefly a few matters that bear on my work.

For some readers will perhaps ask why, having devoted so much discussion to the regions of Libya and Iberia, I have said nothing further about the strait at the Pillars of Heracles, or about the outer sea and its distinctive features, nor indeed about the British Isles and the production of tin there, nor about the silver and gold mines of Iberia itself—subjects on which the historians, disputing with one another, expend a great deal of discussion.

Now, I passed these over not because I think this branch of inquiry foreign to history, but, in the first place, because I did not wish to keep breaking up the narrative at every turn, nor to lead those eager to listen away from the practical subject before us; and, in the second place, because I judged it best not to treat these matters in a scattered way or as a mere by-the-way digression, but to set aside a place

and an occasion of their own for this subject and, as far as I am able, to give a truthful account of them there.

For this reason no one should be surprised if, in what follows as well, when I come to regions of this kind, I pass over this subject for the reasons already stated.

But if there are those who absolutely insist on hearing about such matters region by region and part by part, they are perhaps unaware that they are doing much the same as greedy dinner guests.

For those guests, by sampling everything set before them, neither truly enjoy any of the dishes at the moment nor draw from them any wholesome digestion and nourishment for the future, but quite the opposite; and those who do the same with their reading likewise fail to attain, as they should, either genuine pleasure in the present or benefit for the future.

Chapter 58 Necessity of Refuting Past Errors

That this department, if any in history, also requires discussion and a more accurate correction is plain from many considerations, but above all from the following.

For since nearly all writers—or at any rate the great majority—have attempted to set out the peculiar characteristics and positions of the regions at the far edges of the world we inhabit, yet in many points most of them have gone badly wrong, it is by no means proper to pass this over; rather, something must be said to them, not as a by-the-way or scattered remark, but with careful attention—and it must be said not by way of censure or rebuke, but rather with praise and with a correction of their ignorance, recognizing that they too, had they had access to our own times, would have brought many of their statements to correction and revision.

For in earlier times one could find very few Greeks who undertook to investigate the matters of these remote regions, because the attempt was impossible.

For the dangers by sea were then many and hard to reckon, and those by land many times greater still.

But even if someone did reach the ends of the inhabited world, whether by necessity or by choice, even so he did not accomplish his purpose.

For it was difficult to become an eyewitness of more than a few of these places, since some had grown wholly barbarous and others were uninhabited; and it was harder still to learn and understand by conversation anything about what one had seen, because of the strangeness of the language.

And even if someone did gain such understanding, it was harder still than any of these things for one who had seen the places to handle the matter with restraint—to scorn marvel-mongering and sensationalism for his own glory, to value the truth above all, and to report to us nothing of what lies outside it.

Chapter 59 Recent Advances in Geography

Since, then, a true account of the matters just mentioned was, in former times at least, not merely difficult but very nearly impossible, it is not right to censure the historians if they omitted something or made mistakes; rather, it is just to praise and admire them for whatever knowledge they did gain and for the way they advanced our experience of these matters in such an age.

But in our own day, the regions of Asia have become accessible through the empire of Alexander, and the remaining regions through the supremacy of the Romans, so that nearly all of them can now be reached by sea and by land; and since men of action, released from their ambitions in military and political affairs, have through these means gained many great opportunities for investigation and for the pursuit of knowledge about the matters just mentioned, it would only be fitting that we should have both better and truer knowledge concerning what was formerly unknown. This is what I myself will also try to do, taking a fitting place in my work for this subject, and I will wish to inform those eager to learn more fully about the matters just mentioned; for it was largely for this purpose that I undertook the dangers [and the hardships] that befell me in my wanderings through Libya and Iberia, and also Gaul and the sea that lies beyond these countries and borders upon them, in order that, by correcting the ignorance of those who came before, I might make these parts of the inhabited world too familiar to the Greeks.

But now, returning from this digression to the narrative, I will try to set out the pitched battles that took place in Italy between the Romans and the Carthaginians.

Chapter 60 Hannibal Attacks the Taurini

I have already given an account of the size of the army with which Hannibal invaded Italy.

After completing the invasion, he encamped at the very base of the Alps and at first set about restoring his forces.

For his entire army had not only been terribly worn down by the climbs and descents, and still more by the rough ground along the passes, but it was also in a wretched condition from the scarcity of provisions and from the lack of any care for the men’s bodies.

Many had given themselves up entirely, broken by the want and by the unrelenting hardships. It had been impossible to carry an ample supply of food for so many tens of thousands across such terrain, and even what they did bring along was for the most part lost when the pack animals perished.

Thus, when he set out from the crossing of the Rhône he had some thirty-eight thousand infantry and more than eight thousand cavalry, and he lost nearly half of his force in the passes, as I stated above.

Even those who survived had become almost like wild beasts, in both their appearance and their general condition, because of the relentless hardships I have described.

Hannibal therefore took great care over their treatment and worked to restore both the spirits and the bodies of his men, and likewise of his horses.

After this, once his army had recovered its strength, he found that the Taurini, who happen to live near the foot of the mountains, were at odds with the Insubres and distrustful of the Carthaginians.

At first he invited them into friendship and alliance; but when they would not listen, he laid siege to their strongest city and stormed it within three days.

By slaughtering those who had resisted him, he instilled such fear in the neighbouring barbarian tribes that they all came over to him at once, surrendering themselves into his trust.

As for the rest of the Gauls inhabiting the plains, they were eager to make common cause with the Carthaginians, in keeping with their original intention.

But since the Roman legions had by now advanced past most of them and cut them off, they kept quiet; and some were even compelled to serve alongside the Romans.

Seeing this, Hannibal decided not to delay but to push forward and to do something that would give heart to those who wished to share in the same hopes as himself.

Chapter 61 Approach of Scipio

While he was set on this purpose, Hannibal heard that Publius had already crossed the Po with his forces and was close at hand. At first he refused to believe the reports, reflecting that only a few days earlier he had left Publius behind near the crossing of the Rhône, and reckoning that the voyage from Massalia to Tyrrhenia was long and difficult to make.

Besides this, he had learned that the route from the Tyrrhenian Sea through Italy up to the Alps was a long one and hard for an army to traverse.

But as more and more men reported it, each with greater certainty, he was astonished and amazed at the consul's whole plan and the way he had carried it out.

Publius felt much the same. At first he had not even expected that Hannibal would attempt the march through the Alps with an army of foreign peoples; and even if he did dare it, he supposed the man would clearly be destroyed. So, while he was occupied with such thoughts, when he learned that Hannibal had come through safely and was already besieging some towns in Italy, he was amazed at the man's audacity and reckless daring.

The people at Rome experienced just the same feelings about the news that reached them.

For the last report about the Carthaginians—that they had taken Saguntum—had only just ceased to be the talk of the city, and they had only just adopted measures in response to it: they had sent off one of the consuls to Libya to besiege Carthage itself, and the other to Iberia to wage war against Hannibal

there. Then word arrived that Hannibal was present in Italy with his army and was already besieging some of its towns.

Since what was happening seemed to them incredible, they were thrown into immediate confusion and sent dispatches to Tiberius at Lilybaeum, informing him of the enemy's arrival and judging that he must abandon his current operations and come in all haste to aid their own affairs.

Tiberius at once assembled the crews of the fleet and sent them off, with orders to make the voyage home; and through the military tribunes he put the land forces under oath, fixing a day by which all of them were to be present at Ariminum for the night.

This is a city lying on the Adriatic, at the southern edge of the plains around the Po.

With this upheaval breaking out on every side, and with events befalling everyone contrary to expectation, there was in every quarter no small anxiety about what was to come.

Chapter 62 Gallic Prisoners

At this time, as Hannibal and Publius were now drawing near to one another, each set about exhorting his own troops, presenting whatever suited the present circumstances.

Hannibal undertook to deliver his encouragement in the following way.

He gathered the men together and brought forward some young captives whom he had taken while they were harassing his march in the difficult country around the Alps.

He had treated these men harshly, preparing them for what he now intended: they wore heavy chains, were wasted by hunger, and their bodies were ruined by the lashes they had received.

Seating these prisoners in the middle, he set out before them suits of Gallic armour, of the kind in which their kings are accustomed to deck themselves when they are about to fight in single combat; and in addition he placed horses there and brought in costly cloaks.

Then he asked the young men which of them were willing to fight one another in single combat, on the terms that the victor would take the prizes set before them, while the loser would be released from his present miseries by death.

When they all cried out together that they wished to fight, he ordered them to draw lots, and commanded the two on whom the lot fell to arm themselves and fight each other.

The moment the young men heard this, they lifted up their hands and prayed to the gods, each eager that he himself might be one of those chosen by lot.

And when the result of the lottery was announced, those who had been picked were overjoyed, while the rest felt the opposite.

When the combat took place, the captives who were left behind counted the dead man no less fortunate than the victor, since the one had been released from many great miseries, while they themselves were still left to endure them.

Chapter 63 Harangues of Hannibal and Scipio

The same view was held by most of the Carthaginians as well: for as they watched, by way of comparison, the wretchedness of those who were being led off still alive, they pitied these men, while the one who had died they all called fortunate. Having by these means worked the desired disposition into the spirits of his troops, Hannibal then came forward himself and declared that this was why he had brought in the captives: so that, seeing vividly in the misfortunes of others what was at stake, his men might make better plans regarding their own situation.

For Fortune, he said, had confined them to a struggle and a moment very like that of the captives, and had set before them prizes very like those just offered.

They must either conquer, or die, or fall alive into the hands of their enemies. The prize for victory was not horses and cloaks, but to become the most fortunate of all men, having mastered the prosperity of Rome.

If they should fall while fighting—battling to their last breath for the noblest of hopes—they would exchange this life in the press of combat without ever tasting any misery; but for those who were beaten, and who out of a craving to stay alive chose to flee, or by some other means clung to life, every misery and every misfortune would be their portion.

For not one of them, he said, could be so unreasoning or so dull that, remembering the length of the road he had travelled from his homeland, remembering the multitude of enemies that lay between, and knowing the size of the rivers he had crossed, he could ever hope to reach his own country by running away.

Therefore he thought that, with such a hope cut off entirely, they ought to take the very same view of their own situation that they had just now taken of the misfortunes of others.

For just as, in the case of those captives, everyone counted both the victor and the dead man fortunate while pitying the survivors, so, he thought, they ought to judge their own case, and all of them go into the contest meaning above all to win, but, if that should not be possible, to die.

The hope of living on in defeat he urged them not to entertain in their minds in any way whatever.

For if they adopted this reasoning and this resolve, then both victory and survival would clearly follow for them.

For all those who, whether by deliberate choice or by necessity, have adopted such a resolve have never been cheated of mastery over their opponents.

And when it also happens that the enemy hold the opposite hope—as is now the case with the Romans, so that for most of them safety plainly lies in flight, with their homeland near at hand—then it is clear that the daring of men who have abandoned all hope would prove irresistible.

Since the mass of the men accepted both the example and the words, and took on the drive and resolve that the speaker had striven to produce, Hannibal then praised them and dismissed them; and on the next day he ordered them to break camp at first light.

Chapter 64 Scipio Crosses the Ticinus

Around the same days Publius, having now crossed the river Po and having decided to advance still farther by crossing the Ticinus, ordered the men skilled in such work to build a bridge over the latter river, while he gathered the rest of his forces together and addressed them.

Most of what he said concerned the prestige of their homeland and the achievements of their ancestors, but the part bearing on the present moment ran as follows.

He told them that, even though they had as yet gained no actual experience of the enemy, the mere fact that they knew they were about to face Carthaginians in battle should make their hope of victory beyond all dispute.

And in general he said it would be an outrageous and absurd thing if the Carthaginians dared to look the Romans in the eye—men who had often been beaten by them, who had paid them heavy tribute over and over, and who for so many years now had been all but their slaves.

“And when, quite apart from all this, we have already had some experience of these very men now before us—namely that they hardly dare to face us head-on—what conclusion should those who reason correctly draw about what is to come?

What is more, their cavalry, when it clashed with our horsemen at the river Rhone, came off badly: they lost many of their own men and fled in disgrace all the way back to their own camp.

And their general together with his whole army, the moment they learned that our soldiers were near, made a retreat that was little better than a flight, and out of fear, against their own intentions, resorted to the march over the Alps.”

Hannibal is here now, he said, having destroyed the greater part of his army, while what remains is feeble and unfit for service because of the hardships they have suffered; likewise he has lost the greater part of his horses and rendered the rest useless owing to the length and difficulty of the journey.

By all this he tried to show that they had only to make their appearance before the enemy.

Above all he urged them to take heart by looking to his own presence among them: for he would never have left his fleet and his campaign in Iberia, the task he had been sent to carry out, and come here in

such haste, had he not seen very clearly, on rational grounds, that this action was both necessary for his country and certain to bring victory.

Since all the men, both from their trust in the speaker and from the truth of what he said, were eager for the battle, he welcomed their enthusiasm and dismissed them, urging them in addition to be ready for whatever order should be passed along.

Chapter 65 Cavalry Engagement on the Ticinus

On the very next day both sides advanced along the river on the side toward the Alps, the Romans keeping the stream on their left and the Carthaginians on their right.

On the second day, learning through their foraging parties that they were close to one another, they encamped where they were and stayed there for the time being.

On the following day both sides took all their cavalry—and Publius also the javelin-throwers from among his infantry—and advanced across the plain, eager to scout out each other's forces.

As soon as they drew near and saw the dust rising up, they at once began to form up for battle.

Publius, placing his javelin-throwers and the Gallic cavalry that accompanied them in front, and stationing the rest in a line abreast, advanced at a walking pace.

Hannibal, drawing up his bridled cavalry and all the steadier part of his horse facing the front, went to meet the enemy, while he held the Numidian cavalry ready on each wing for an encircling movement.

Since both the commanders and the horsemen on each side were keen for the contest, the first clash turned out to be such that the javelin-throwers did not even manage to let fly their first missile, but reeled back and fled at once through the gaps to the rear of their own squadrons, panicked by the charge and terrified of being trampled by the cavalry bearing down on them.

Those who met one another face to face kept the contest evenly balanced for a long time; for it was at once a cavalry battle and an infantry battle, because of the number of men who dismounted in the very midst of the fighting.

But when the Numidians had encircled them and fallen on them from behind, the foot javelin-throwers, who at first had escaped the cavalry clash, were now trampled down by the mass and the onslaught of the Numidians; while those who from the start had been fighting the Carthaginians face to face—having lost many of their own men, but having destroyed still more of the Carthaginians—now, attacked from the rear by the Numidians, were put to flight: most of them scattered, but some rallied around their commander.

Chapter 66 Scipio Crosses the Po

Publius then broke camp and advanced across the plains toward the bridge over the Po, in haste to get his legions across first.

For seeing that the ground was level, that the enemy was superior in cavalry, and that he himself was weighed down by his wound, he judged it necessary to bring his forces back to safety.

Hannibal for a while supposed that they would risk a battle with their infantry too; but when he saw that they had moved out of their camp, he followed as far as the first river and the bridge over it.

Finding that most of the planks had been torn up, but that the men guarding the bridge were still left behind near the river, he took these prisoner—about six hundred of them in number.

Then, hearing that the rest had already gotten a long way ahead, he turned about again in the opposite direction and made his march along the river, hurrying to reach a point on the Po where it could easily be bridged.

On the second day he halted and bridged the crossing with river boats, and assigned to Hasdrubal the task of bringing the main body across, while he himself crossed at once and dealt with the envoys who had arrived from the neighboring districts.

For as soon as he had gained the advantage, all the neighboring Gauls hastened, in keeping with their original intention, to become his friends, to supply him, and to join the Carthaginians on campaign.

After receiving those who had come in a friendly manner and bringing his forces over from the far side, he advanced along the river, taking the opposite direction to his earlier march: for he now made his way downstream, eager to come to grips with the enemy.

Publius, having crossed the Po and encamped near the city of Placentia, which was a Roman colony, attended at once to himself and the other wounded, and at the same time, considering that he had brought his forces into a safe position, kept quiet.

Hannibal, arriving on the second day after his crossing near the enemy, on the third day drew up his army in full view of his opponents.

But when no one came out against him, he pitched camp, leaving an interval of about fifty stades between the two armies.

Chapter 67 The Gauls Join Hannibal

The Gauls who were serving alongside the Romans, seeing that the Carthaginians' prospects were the more promising of the two, made an agreement among themselves and watched for the right moment to strike, each remaining meanwhile in his own tent.

After the men in the camp had eaten their supper and gone to sleep, the Gauls let most of the night pass, and then, around the time of the morning watch, they armed themselves and fell upon the

Romans encamped nearest to them.

They killed many of them and wounded a good number more; and in the end, after cutting off the heads of the dead, they withdrew to the Carthaginians, numbering about two thousand infantry and a little under two hundred cavalry.

Hannibal welcomed their arrival warmly. He at once encouraged them, promised each of them suitable rewards, and sent them off to their own cities to report to their fellow citizens what they had done and to urge them to join his alliance.

For he knew that, once they learned of the act of treachery committed against the Romans by their own countrymen, they would all be compelled to throw in their lot with him.

At the same time the Boii also arrived and handed over to him the three men whom the Romans had sent out to distribute the land—men whom they had seized at the very start of the war by breaking the truce, as I have already described above.

Hannibal welcomed their goodwill and gave pledges of friendship and alliance to those who had come; but he returned the men to them, instructing them to keep them safe, so that through them they might recover their own hostages, in keeping with their original purpose.

Publius, indignant at the treachery that had occurred, reasoned that since the Gauls had long been hostile toward the Romans, the defection of these men would cause all the surrounding Gauls to go over to the Carthaginians; and so he decided that he must guard against what was coming.

Chapter 68 Tiberius Sempronius Joins Scipio

For this reason, when night fell, he broke camp toward dawn and set out toward the river Trebia and the hills adjoining it, trusting in the strength of the terrain and in the support of the allies who lived nearby. When Hannibal learned that they had broken camp, he immediately sent out the Numidian cavalry, and shortly afterward the rest, while he himself followed close behind with his main army.

The Numidians, finding the camp deserted, set it on fire.

This proved a great benefit to the Romans; for if the Numidians had instead pressed on at their heels and overtaken the baggage train, many of the Romans would have been cut down by the cavalry on the open plains.

As it was, however, most of them managed to cross the river Trebia first; of those left behind in the rearguard, some were killed and others taken alive by the Carthaginians.

Publius, then, having crossed the river just mentioned, made camp on the first line of hills, and after surrounding his position with a ditch and a palisade, he waited for Tiberius and the forces with him, while attending carefully to his own recovery, eager to be able to take part in the coming engagement.

Hannibal pitched his camp about forty stades away from the enemy.

The mass of the Gauls who inhabited the plains, having committed themselves to the Carthaginians' hopes, supplied the army abundantly with provisions and were ready to share in every undertaking and danger alongside Hannibal.

The people in Rome, when news of the cavalry engagement reached them, were taken aback that the outcome had run contrary to their expectations; yet they were not at a loss for excuses to convince themselves that what had happened was not a defeat.

Some blamed the rashness of the general, others the deliberate treachery of the Gauls, which they inferred from the latter's recent defection.

In general, since their infantry legions remained intact, they reckoned their hopes for the overall outcome were likewise intact.

And so, when Tiberius and the legions with him arrived and were marching through Rome, the people imagined that the mere sight of them would decide the battle.

When the soldiers had gathered at Ariminum in accordance with their oath, the general took them up and led them forward, hurrying to join Publius's forces.

Having effected the junction and pitched camp beside them with his own troops, he let his men recover their strength—for they had marched on foot continuously for forty days from Lilybaeum to Ariminum—while he made every preparation as if for battle, and he himself conferred carefully with Publius, inquiring into what had already taken place and deliberating together about the present situation.

Chapter 69 A Skirmish Near the Trebia

Around this same time Hannibal, by an act of treachery, gained control of the town of Clastidium, which was surrendered to him by the man from Brundisium to whom the Romans had entrusted it.

Having become master of the garrison and the stores of grain, he used the grain for his immediate needs, but took the men he had captured along with him unharmed, wishing to give a demonstration of his own policy, so that those caught up by the circumstances need not be afraid or despair of obtaining safety from him.

He honored the traitor lavishly, eager to entice those holding positions of authority over toward the Carthaginians' prospects.

After this, observing that certain Gauls who lived between the Po and the river Trebia had made a friendship with him while at the same time sending messages to the Romans—convinced that in this way they would secure their safety from both sides— he sent out two thousand infantry and about a thousand cavalry, both Gauls and Numidians, with orders to overrun their territory.

When these men had carried out their orders and gathered a great deal of plunder, the Gauls immediately came to the Roman camp begging for help.

Tiberius, who had long been looking for an opportunity to act, now seized on this as a pretext and sent out the greater part of his cavalry, together with about a thousand javelin-throwers from his infantry.

When these troops quickly came up with the enemy across the Trebia and fought them for the plunder, the Gauls and Numidians were put to flight and withdrew toward their own camp.

But the troops on guard in front of the Carthaginian camp quickly grasped what was happening and brought up reserves from there to help the hard-pressed men; whereupon the Romans in turn were routed and withdrew back to their own camp.

Tiberius, seeing what was happening, sent out all his cavalry and javelin-throwers. When this happened, the Gauls again gave way and retreated to the safety of their own position.

The Carthaginian general, being unprepared to risk a decisive engagement and believing that one should never bring on a full-scale battle without a settled plan or on the strength of any chance opening—which, it must be said, is the mark of a good commander— checked his own men as they drew near the camp and forced them to halt and turn about, but prevented them from pursuing and engaging the enemy, recalling them through his aides and trumpeters. The Romans, after waiting a short time, withdrew, having lost only a few of their own men while destroying a greater number of the Carthaginians.

Chapter 70 Tiberius Sempronius Plans to Attack

Tiberius, elated and overjoyed at this success, was keen to decide the whole issue as quickly as possible.

Now it lay within his power to act on his own judgment in the present circumstances, since Publius was ill; nevertheless, wishing to secure his colleague's opinion as well, he discussed the matter with him.

Publius, however, held the opposite view about the present situation.

For he reckoned that their legions would become better after wintering under arms; that the faithlessness of the Gauls would not remain loyal once the Carthaginians were inactive and forced to keep quiet, but would instead make some fresh move against them again; and besides, that once he himself had recovered from his wound, he hoped to be able to render real service to their common cause.

Reasoning along these lines, he urged Tiberius to remain with things as they stood.

Tiberius knew that each of these points was being stated truly and properly; but driven by ambition and an unreasonable confidence in the situation, he was eager to decide the whole matter himself—

before Publius could be present at the battle and before the incoming consuls could take over the command; for the time for that was now at hand.

For this reason, choosing not the moment that the circumstances called for but his own, he was plainly bound to fall short of what was needed.

Hannibal, holding much the same view as Publius about the present situation, was for the opposite reason eager to engage the enemy: first, he wished to make use of the Gauls' fighting spirit while it was still fresh; second, to engage the Roman legions while they were still untrained and newly recruited; third, to fight while Publius was still unable to take the field; and, most important of all, to be doing something and not let the time slip away to no purpose.

For when a general has brought his army into foreign territory and is attempting bold undertakings, this is the one means of safety: continually to keep the hopes of his allies fresh.

Hannibal, then, knowing the attack that was to come [...]

Chapter 71 Hannibal Prepares An Ambush

These were the matters that occupied Tiberius. Hannibal, meanwhile, had long since noticed a stretch of ground between the two camps that was flat and bare of trees, yet well suited for an ambush, because a watercourse ran through it with a raised bank along its edge, and along that bank grew a continuous thicket of thorns and brambles. There he set about laying a trap for the enemy.

He was confident the scheme would easily escape notice. For the Romans were suspicious of wooded ground, since the Gauls always set their ambushes in such places, but they felt no distrust of level and open country— not realizing that, both for staying concealed and for keeping the men in ambush from coming to any harm, open ground is in fact better suited than woodland. The reason is that those lying in wait can see everything that is going on from a long way off, while in most such places there is cover enough to hide behind.

A chance watercourse with a low bank, or sometimes reeds, ferns, and a kind of thorn-scrub, can conceal not only infantry but at times even cavalry, provided one takes the modest precaution of laying the conspicuous parts of the armor flat against the ground and tucking the helmets in under the shields.

In any case, the Carthaginian general, after conferring with his brother Mago and with his council about the coming engagement, found them all in agreement with his plans.

So, as soon as the army had taken its evening meal, he called for his brother Mago—a young man, but full of dash and trained in warfare from boyhood—and assigned to him a hundred horsemen and an equal number of foot soldiers.

While it was still daylight, he had picked out the most robust men from the whole army and ordered them, after their supper, to report to his tent.

There he encouraged them and roused in them the spirit the occasion demanded, and instructed each man to choose ten of the bravest soldiers from his own unit and bring them to a certain spot in the camp that had already been designated.

When they had carried out his orders, he sent these men—a thousand cavalry and as many infantry—off by night to the place of ambush, supplying them with guides, and gave his brother his instructions about the timing of the attack.

At first light he himself assembled the Numidian cavalry, who were outstanding for their stamina, encouraged them, and—promising rewards to those who fought well—ordered them to ride up to the enemy's rampart, then quickly cross the river and skirmish so as to provoke the enemy into action. His aim was to catch his opponents before they had breakfasted and while they were still unprepared for what lay ahead.

He then gathered the rest of his officers, urged them likewise toward the coming battle, and ordered them all to breakfast and to see to their weapons and horses.

Chapter 72 Preparations for Battle

As soon as Tiberius saw the Numidian cavalry approaching, he immediately sent out his own cavalry on their own, with orders to engage and close with the enemy.

Next he sent out the foot javelineers, about six thousand of them, and he also set the rest of his army in motion from the camp, as though the whole issue were going to be decided at first sight. He was emboldened both by his superior numbers and by his cavalry's success the day before.

It was now around the winter solstice, and the day was snowy and bitterly cold; and since nearly all the men and horses had marched out without breakfast, at the start the troops were carried along by their dash and eagerness.

But when it came to crossing the river Trebia, which had risen because of the rain that had fallen during the night on the high ground above the camps, the infantry could barely get across, immersed up to their chests.

As a result the army was in distress from the cold and from hunger, all the more as the day wore on.

The Carthaginians, by contrast, had eaten and drunk in their tents, had got their horses ready, and were all rubbing themselves down with oil and arming around their fires.

Hannibal, watching for his moment, as soon as he saw that the Romans had crossed the river, threw out his spearmen and Balearic slingers—some eight thousand of them—as a covering force and led out his army.

Advancing about eight stades in front of his camp, he drew up his infantry, about twenty thousand in number—Iberians, Gauls, and Libyans—in a single straight line, and dividing his cavalry, he stationed them on either wing—more than ten thousand, counting his Gallic allies—while he split the elephants and posted them in front of both wings.

Tiberius at this same moment was recalling his cavalry, since he saw they could make no headway against the enemy. For the Numidians would fall back easily and in scattered fashion, then wheel about and press the attack again boldly and recklessly—this being the characteristic feature of Numidian fighting.

His infantry he drew up in the formation customary among the Romans: about sixteen thousand citizens and twenty thousand allies.

For with them a full army for major operations consists of that many men, whenever circumstances bring both consuls together at once.

Chapter 73 The Battle of the Trebia

After this, placing his cavalry—about four thousand—on either wing, he advanced against the enemy in imposing style, in good order and at a steady, deliberate pace. When the two sides were now close to one another, the light-armed troops posted in front of each army closed with each other.

When this happened, the Romans were at a disadvantage in many respects, while for the Carthaginians the engagement turned out greatly in their favor, since the Roman foot javelineers had been under hard strain since dawn, had spent most of their missiles in the clash with the Numidians, and found the missiles they had left useless from being soaked through by the persistent damp.

Much the same was happening with their cavalry and with the army as a whole.

With the Carthaginians the situation was the very opposite: drawn up fresh and in their prime, they were always ready and eager for whatever was needed.

And so, as soon as the light troops who had fought the opening skirmish had been received back through the gaps in the line, and the heavy-armed troops on both sides had clashed, the Carthaginian cavalry at once began pressing the enemy hard from both wings, since they far outnumbered them and were superior in the freshness of both men and horses, owing to the unworn condition I mentioned, in which they had set out.

As the Roman cavalry gave way and the wings of the phalanx were left exposed, the Carthaginian spearmen and the mass of Numidians, sweeping past their own front ranks and falling upon the Roman flanks, did them great damage and prevented them from fighting the troops facing them.

Chapter 74 The Romans Retreat to Placentia

But the heavy-armed troops on both sides, who held the front and center positions of the whole line, kept up a close, hand-to-hand fight for a long time, evenly matched, making the contest a fierce one. It was at this point that the Numidians lying in ambush rose up and suddenly fell on the rear of the troops fighting in the center, throwing the Roman forces into great confusion and difficulty.

In the end both of Tiberius's wings, pressed in front by the elephants and all around—on their flanks—by the light-armed troops, were routed and driven, as the pursuit went on, toward the river that lay behind them.

After this, of the Romans stationed in the center of the action, those positioned in the rear were destroyed and suffered terribly under the attack of the men from the ambush, while those in the foremost ranks, forced to fight on, overpowered the Gauls and a portion of the Libyans, killed many of them, and cut their way through the Carthaginian line.

Seeing that their own wings had been driven off the field, they gave up any thought of going to their aid or of returning to their own camp—wary of the enemy's superior numbers of cavalry, and hindered by the river and by the driving, swirling downpour beating down on their heads.

So, keeping their ranks, they withdrew in a body and in safety to Placentia, numbering no fewer than ten thousand.

Of the rest, the greater part perished near the river at the hands of the elephants and the cavalry, while those of the infantry who escaped, and most of the cavalry, made their withdrawal toward the body of men just mentioned and were brought back together with them to Placentia.

The Carthaginian army pursued the enemy as far as the river but, unable to advance any farther because of the storm, returned again to its camp.

They were all overjoyed at the battle, feeling they had won a complete success; for it turned out that few of the Iberians and Libyans had fallen, and that the heaviest losses had been among the Gauls.

But from the rain and the snow that followed, they were so badly affected that the elephants died—all but one—and many of the men and horses perished as well from the cold.

Chapter 75 Better Success in Spain

Tiberius, well aware of what had happened but wishing as far as possible to hide the disaster from the people in Rome, sent messengers to report that a battle had been fought but that the storm had robbed them of the victory.

For the moment the Romans believed the reports that reached them; but before long they learned that the Carthaginians were holding their own camp and that all the Gauls had gone over to friendship with them, while their own men had abandoned their camp, had withdrawn from the field, had all gathered

together into the cities, and were being supplied with necessities by sea up the river Po. They then understood all too clearly what had really happened in the battle.

And so, since the affair had come upon them as a complete surprise, they devoted themselves with special energy to their remaining preparations and to guarding the regions that lay exposed, sending legions to Sardinia and Sicily, and garrisons to Tarentum and to other places of strategic value; they also fitted out sixty quinqueremes.

Gnaeus Servilius and Gaius Flaminius, who happened to be the consuls newly installed at that time, were assembling the allies and enrolling their own legions.

They also forwarded supplies, some to Ariminum and some to Etruria, with the intention of taking the field from those positions.

They sent too to Hiero asking for help, and he dispatched to them five hundred Cretans and a thousand peltasts. In short, they were vigorously making every kind of preparation on every front.

For the Romans are at their most formidable, both collectively and as individuals, when they are gripped by genuine fear.

Chapter 76 Gnaeus Scipio in Spain

About this same time Gnaeus Cornelius, who had been left by his brother Publius in command of the naval forces (as I mentioned earlier), set sail from the mouths of the Rhone and put in with his whole fleet on the Iberian coast at the region called Emporium.

Starting from there he made a series of landings: those of the coastal inhabitants who would not submit, as far as the river Ebro, he besieged, while those who came over to him he treated kindly, taking every possible care for their welfare.

Having secured the coastal peoples who had joined him, he advanced with his whole army, marching into the interior, for by now he had also gathered a large allied contingent of Iberians. As he went forward he won some cities over and subdued others.

When the Carthaginians—those whom Hanno had been left in charge of in that district—encamped against him near a city called Cissa, Gnaeus engaged them in a pitched battle, defeated them, and gained a great quantity of property, since the whole baggage of the forces that had set out for Italy had been left behind with them.

He made allies and friends of all the peoples north of the river Ebro, and took prisoner both Hanno, the Carthaginian general, and Andobales, the leader of the Iberians.

This Andobales was ruler of the inland regions and had always been exceptionally well disposed toward the Carthaginians.

Hasdrubal quickly grasped what had happened and came to the rescue, crossing the river Ebro.

Learning that the men from the Roman fleet had been left behind and were carrying on carelessly and overconfidently because of the success of the land forces, he took from his own army about eight thousand infantry and around a thousand cavalry, caught the men from the ships scattered about the countryside, killed many of them, and forced the rest to flee to their vessels.

He then withdrew, recrossed the river Ebro, and set about preparing and garrisoning the regions south of the river, taking up his winter quarters at New Carthage.

Gnaeus, having rejoined his fleet and punished those responsible for the disaster according to their own customs, then brought his land and sea forces together in one place and took up his winter quarters at Tarraco.

By dividing the spoils fairly among his soldiers, he won great goodwill from them and made them eager for what lay ahead.

Chapter 77 Hannibal's Treatment of Roman Prisoners

Such was the state of affairs in Iberia. As the spring season set in, Gaius Flaminius took up his forces and advanced through Etruria, pitching camp before the city of the Arretines, while Gnaeus Servilius went in the opposite direction, toward Ariminum, to watch there for the enemy's invasion.

Hannibal, wintering in Gallic territory, kept the Romans among the prisoners from the battle under guard, giving them only modest rations, but their allies he at first treated with every kindness; and afterward he gathered them together and addressed them, declaring that he had not come to make war on them but on the Romans on their behalf. Therefore, he said, if they were sensible, they should hold fast to friendship with him.

For he had come, first, to win back freedom for the peoples of Italy, and likewise to help each of them recover the cities and territory they had lost to the Romans.

With these words he released them all without ransom to their own homes, wishing in this way both to draw the inhabitants of Italy to his side and to alienate them from their goodwill toward Rome, and to stir up those who felt they had suffered any loss of cities or harbors under Roman rule.

Chapter 78 Hannibal Marches Southward

During his time in winter quarters he also employed a certain stratagem that was thoroughly Phoenician in character.

Because he was anxious about the unreliability of the Gauls and about possible plots against his life—the alliance between himself and them being so recently formed—he had a set of false hairpieces made, each one suited to the appearance natural to a different age of life.

These he wore constantly, changing them from one to another, and in the same way he kept changing his clothing as well, always to match whichever wig he was wearing.

By this means he was hard to recognize, not only for those who caught sight of him suddenly, but even for those who were on familiar terms with him.

He observed, however, that the Gauls were resentful at the war dragging on in their own territory, and that they were eager and on edge to push into enemy land—ostensibly out of anger toward the Romans, but mostly for the sake of plunder. He therefore decided to break camp as quickly as possible and to satisfy the army's impulses.

And so, as soon as the season began to change, he made inquiries of those reputed to have the best knowledge of the country. He found that the other routes for invading enemy territory were long and obvious to the enemy, whereas the one leading through the marshes into Etruria, though difficult, was short and would catch Flaminius and his men completely off guard.

Since he was always by temperament drawn to this kind of approach, he resolved to make his march by this route.

Chapter 79 Hannibal Goes Through the Marsh

But when word spread through the camp that the general intended to lead them through some marshes, every man grew wary of the march, fearful of pits and the swampy stretches of the terrain. But Hannibal had carefully reconnoitered the ground along the route, learning which parts were shallow and firm. He broke camp and placed the Libyans and Iberians—all the more serviceable part of his force—in the vanguard, mixing the baggage train in among them so that they would have ample supplies for the immediate present.

As for the longer term, he gave no thought at all to the whole baggage train, reasoning that once he reached enemy country, if he were defeated he would have no further need of supplies, and if he held the open field he would have no shortage of provisions.

Behind the troops just mentioned he set the Gauls, and behind all of them the cavalry.

He left his brother Mago in charge of the rearguard, both for general reasons and especially because of the softness and aversion to hardship of the Gauls, so that if they should suffer and try to turn back, Mago could stop them with the cavalry and lay hands on them.

Now the Iberians and Libyans, marching through the marshes while these were still untrampled, got through with only moderate hardship, since they were all hardy by nature and accustomed to such ordeals.

But the Gauls advanced only with difficulty, since the marshes were now churned up and trodden into deep mire, and they endured the suffering painfully and miserably, being wholly unused to that kind of

distress.

Yet they were prevented from slipping back to the rear by the cavalry stationed behind them.

All of them suffered, especially from sleeplessness, as they marched continuously through water for four days and three nights on end; but the Gauls in particular labored and perished more than the rest.

Most of his pack animals slipped in the mud, fell, and died, providing a single service to the men in their fall: for the soldiers sat on the carcasses and, piling the baggage in heaps, kept themselves above the water, and in this way snatched a little sleep during a short part of the night.

Not a few of the horses, too, lost their hoofs through the relentless march across the mud.

Hannibal himself barely came through, riding with great hardship on the one elephant that survived, in severe pain from a violent attack of ophthalmia that had struck him—through which he ultimately lost the sight of one eye, since the circumstances allowed him no time to halt or apply treatment, the situation making it impossible.

Chapter 80 Flaminius in Hannibal's Way

Having crossed the marshy terrain in this unexpected fashion, and finding Flaminius in Etruria encamped before the city of Arretium, Hannibal for the moment pitched camp there beside the marshes, wishing to rest his army and to make a thorough study of the enemy and of the terrain that lay ahead.

He learned that the country in front of him was rich in plunder, and that Flaminius was a consummate rabble-rouser and demagogue but had no natural aptitude for the genuine conduct of military affairs, and on top of this was overconfident in his own resources.

He therefore calculated that if he marched past their camp and descended into the territory beyond, Flaminius—partly anxious about the jeers of the crowd, unable to bear watching the land being ravaged, and partly stung by personal feeling—would readily come along, following him into any region, eager to win the success on his own and not to wait for the arrival of his colleague, who held equal authority.

From all this he reckoned that Flaminius would hand him many openings for an attack.

Chapter 81 A General Must Know his Enemy's Character

He reasoned all this out with intelligence and practical sense. For it would not be wrong to say that anyone who supposes there is any more decisive element of generalship than knowing the purpose and character of the opposing commander is ignorant and deluded.

Just as in contests between individuals or between ranks the man who means to win must observe carefully how he can reach his goal and what part of his opponent appears exposed or insufficiently armored, so too those in command of whole armies must look not for where some part of the body is unguarded, but for where some vulnerable point in the mind of the enemy commander shows itself.

For many men, through laziness and sheer idleness, utterly throw away not only the affairs of the state but their own private lives as well; many, through their craving for wine, cannot even fall asleep without a stupefying bout of drunkenness; and some, through their lust for sexual pleasure and their obsession with it, have not only brought ruin on cities and lives but have even forfeited their own existence in disgrace.

And indeed, cowardice and slackness bring reproach on the individuals who have them privately, but when they reside in a supreme commander they become a public matter and the greatest of calamities.

For such a commander not only renders his subordinates ineffective, but often brings the gravest dangers upon those who have placed their trust in him.

Recklessness, too, and audacity and irrational temper, and likewise vainglory and conceit, are easy prey for the enemy but most perilous for one's friends. For a man of that sort is an easy mark for every plot, ambush, and deception.

So if a man can discern the failings of those around him, and approach his adversaries precisely at the point and by the means through which the enemy's leader is most vulnerable, he would very quickly master the whole campaign. For just as, if you remove the helmsman from a ship, the entire vessel with all its crew falls into the hands of the enemy, in the same way, if a man outmaneuvers the commander of an army through his designs and calculations, he often gains possession of the opposing force, men and all.

It was precisely by foreseeing and reasoning out these things about the enemy commander that Hannibal, on this occasion, did not fail in his design.

Chapter 82 Flaminius Enticed Out

For as soon as Hannibal broke camp from the region around Faesulae and, passing a little beyond the Roman encampment, made his raid into the country that lay ahead, Flaminius at once became agitated and full of fury, imagining that he was being treated with contempt by the enemy.

Then, as the country was being plundered and the smoke rising everywhere signaled its devastation, he grew indignant, regarding what was happening as outrageous.

And so, when some advised that he should not rashly pursue or close with the enemy, but should be on his guard and beware of their large body of cavalry, and above all should wait for the other consul and engage in battle only when all the armies were combined together, he not only paid no attention to what they said but could not even tolerate those who offered such advice.

He urged them rather to consider what the people back home were likely to say if the country were being ravaged almost up to the very walls of Rome while they sat encamped in Etruria behind the enemy.

Finally, with these words, he broke camp and advanced with his army, giving no thought to time or place, intent only on engaging the enemy, as though victory were already plainly theirs.

For he had instilled in the crowds such confident expectation that those who tagged along outside the ranks for the sake of booty—carrying chains and fetters and all such equipment—were more numerous than those bearing arms.

Hannibal, for his part, was at the same time advancing forward through Etruria toward Rome, keeping on his left the city called Cortona and its hills, and on his right the lake called Thrasymene.

As he advanced he set fire to the country and laid it waste, wishing to provoke the fury of his opponents.

Chapter 83 Hannibal Takes a Position in the Valley

And when he saw that Flaminius was already drawing near, and had observed ground naturally suited to his purpose, he set about preparing for battle. Along the route there was a level defile, which on its two long sides had high, continuous hills, while at its short ends it was closed: on the side facing him by a steep, hard-to-climb height set across the way, and at the rear by the lake, which left only an extremely narrow passage into the valley along the foot of the hills.

Passing through the valley along the lake, Hannibal seized for himself the hill that faced the line of march, and encamped on it with the Iberians and Libyans.

The Balearic slingers and spearmen he led around by the vanguard and posted in concealment beneath the hills lying to the right of the valley, deploying them in a long extended line.

The cavalry and the Gauls he likewise led around in a circuit under the hills on the left and stretched them out in a continuous line, so that the outermost of them were right at the entrance—the one running between the lake and the foot of the hills into the place described.

So Hannibal, having made these preparations during the night and having ringed the valley with his ambushes, kept quiet.

Flaminius followed close behind, eager to close with the enemy.

He had pitched camp the day before right beside the lake at a very late hour, and when day broke afterward he immediately, at dawn, led his vanguard along the lake into the valley below, intending to engage the enemy.

Chapter 84 The Disaster At the Thrasymene Lake

The day being exceptionally foggy, Hannibal—once the greater part of the marching column had entered the valley and the enemy's vanguard was already drawing close to him—gave the signals and sent word to the men in the ambushes, and launched his attack on the enemy from every side at once.

Flaminius and his men, taken aback by this sudden appearance, and with visibility poor because of the conditions in the air, and with the enemy bearing down and falling upon them from higher ground at many points, found that the Roman company-commanders and tribunes were not only unable to bring help wherever it was needed, but could not even grasp what was happening.

For they were being struck simultaneously—some in front, some from the rear, some on the flanks.

As a result, most of them were cut down still in their order of march, unable to defend themselves, as if they had been handed over to slaughter by the poor judgment of their commander.

For while they were still debating what to do, they were being destroyed before they realized it.

At that very moment some of the Gauls fell upon Flaminius himself—who was at a loss and in utter distress over the whole situation—and killed him.

So of the Romans in the valley nearly fifteen thousand fell, unable either to give way to the circumstances or to do anything at all, but holding to this above all else, in keeping with their training: not to flee or abandon their ranks.

Those, however, who were caught on the march in the narrows between the lake and the foot of the hills were destroyed shamefully, and still more wretchedly.

For as they were forced back into the lake, some, in their frenzy of mind, plunged in to swim with their armor on and were drowned, while the great mass advanced into the lake as far as they could and stayed there with only their heads above the water.

When the cavalry rode in and destruction was plainly before them, they raised their hands and begged to be taken alive, uttering every kind of plea; but in the end they were killed, some by the enemy, and some at their own urging by their comrades.

About six thousand of those in the valley, having beaten the enemy directly in front of them, were unable to come to the aid of their own side or to get around behind their opponents, because they could see nothing of what was happening—though they could have rendered great service to the overall outcome.

Always pressing forward, they kept advancing, convinced they would fall in with some of the enemy, until without realizing it they emerged onto the higher ground. When they reached the heights, and the fog had by now lifted, they understood the disaster that had occurred. No longer able to do anything—since the enemy now had the upper hand in the whole battle and already held all the ground—they closed ranks and withdrew to a certain Etrurian village.

After the battle, Maharbal was sent by the general with the Iberians and the spearmen and encamped around the village; and with manifold difficulties closing in on them, they laid down their arms and surrendered under a truce, on the understanding that their lives would be spared.

Such, then, was the course of the entire engagement that took place in Etruria between the Romans and the Carthaginians.

Chapter 85 Roman Reaction

So that affair was brought to its conclusion. Hannibal, once the men who had surrendered under terms had been brought back to him, along with the rest of the prisoners as well, gathered them all together —more than fifteen thousand of them.

He began by making clear that Maharbal had no authority to grant the men who had surrendered their safety without his own consent. After this he delivered an indictment against the Romans.

When he had finished with that, he distributed all the captives who were Romans among the units of his army to be held under guard, but he released all the allies, without ransom, to return to their own homes, repeating the same declaration he had made before: that he had come to wage war not against the Italians but against the Romans, on behalf of the freedom of the Italians.

He then let his own forces recover their strength, and he buried the most distinguished of the dead from his own army, about thirty in number; for in all about fifteen hundred had fallen, most of whom were Gauls.

Having done this, he began to deliberate with his brother and his friends about where and how he ought to press his advance, since he was now confident about the whole campaign.

When news of the disaster that had occurred reached Rome, the leaders of the state were unable to disguise or play down what had happened, because of the sheer scale of the calamity, and they were forced to tell the people what had taken place, calling the citizens together into an assembly.

And so, the moment the magistrate announced to the crowds from the Rostra, “We have lost a great battle,” such a panic broke out that, to those who had been present on both occasions, the event then seemed far greater than at the actual moment of the battle itself.

And this was natural enough. For having had no experience, for many years, either of the word or of the fact of an acknowledged defeat, they bore the reversal with no moderation and no composure.

The Senate, however, did not do so: it held to the reasoning that the situation demanded, and deliberated about the future—how, and what, each group ought to do.

Chapter 86 A Second Disaster in Etruria

At the time of the battle, Gnaeus Servilius, the consul stationed forward in the region of Ariminum—this lies on the side of Italy facing the Adriatic, where the plains of Gaul join the rest of Italy, not far from where the mouths of the Po empty into the sea—having heard that Hannibal had invaded Etruria and was encamped opposite Flaminius, intended to join all his own legions to him. But, unable to do so because of the weight of his army, he hurriedly sent Gaius Centenius ahead with four thousand cavalry, wishing them to arrive in advance of his own coming, should circumstances require it.

Hannibal, when the enemy's relief force was reported to him after the battle, sent out Maharbal with the spearmen and a portion of the cavalry.

These troops fell upon Gaius's men and, in the very first engagement, destroyed nearly half of them, and after driving the rest together onto a certain hill, on the following day took them all prisoner.

In Rome, with the report of the battle now three days old, and the suffering throughout the city at that very moment, so to speak, at its most inflamed, when this further reversal also came on top of it, not only the populace but the Senate itself was thrown into dismay.

For this reason they set aside the annual conduct of public business and the election of magistrates, and undertook to deliberate more seriously about the present situation, judging that affairs and the surrounding circumstances called for a commander with absolute authority.

Hannibal, now thoroughly confident about the whole campaign, decided against approaching Rome for the present, and instead advanced through the countryside, plundering it without resistance, making his march toward the Adriatic.

Passing through the country called Umbria and that of Picenum, he reached the Adriatic region on the tenth day, having taken so much plunder that the army could neither drive nor carry off the spoils, and having killed a great many people along the way; for, just as in the storming of cities, on this occasion too an order had been given to kill any grown men who fell into their hands.

Chapter 87 Quintus Fabius Maximus

This he did because of the innate hatred toward the Romans that was rooted in him. During this period, encamping beside the Adriatic in a country surpassingly rich in every kind of produce, he took great pains over the recovery and care of his men, and no less of his horses.

For since their winter quarters in the region of Gaul had been spent in the open, and what with the cold and the lack of oil for grooming, and on top of that the subsequent march and hardship through the marshes, nearly all the horses, and likewise the men, had developed what is called scurvy and a wretched condition of that sort.

So, having gained control of a prosperous country, he put the horses back into good condition, and restored the bodies and the spirits of his soldiers. He also re-equipped the Libyans in the Roman fashion with select weapons, since he had become master of so much captured gear.

At this time he also sent men by sea to report to Carthage about what had happened; for this was the first time he had reached the sea since he made his invasion into Italy.

On hearing this, the Carthaginians rejoiced greatly, and gave much energy and forethought to supporting in every possible way both their cause in Italy and their cause in Iberia.

The Romans appointed as dictator Quintus Fabius, a man outstanding in judgment and of fine natural endowment. Indeed, even down to our own day the members of this household are called the Maximi —that is, “the Greatest”—on account of that man’s successes and achievements.

The dictator differs from the consuls in this respect: each of the consuls is attended by twelve axes, but this officer by twenty-four; and whereas the consuls in many matters require the Senate’s cooperation to carry out their plans, this man is a commander with absolute power, upon whose appointment all the magistracies in Rome are immediately dissolved, except the tribunes of the people.

We shall, however, give a more precise account of these matters elsewhere. Together with the dictator they appointed Marcus Minucius as master of the horse. This officer is placed under the commander-in-chief, but becomes, as it were, his deputy in the holder’s absences on other business.

Chapter 88 Hannibal Marches Through Iapygia

Hannibal, shifting his camp from place to place over short distances, lingered in the region along the Adriatic. Because he had a great supply of old wine, he washed down his horses with it and so cured them of their poor condition and their mange.

In much the same way he restored his men, healing the wounded and bringing the rest into good physical shape and a keen readiness for the tasks ahead.

Then, after passing through and laying waste the territories of Praetutia and Hadria, and further those of the Marrucini and the Frentani, he set out and made his march into Iapygia.

This region is divided under three names—its peoples being called Daunii, Peucetii, and Messapii—and the first district he invaded was Daunia.

Beginning there from Luceria, which is a Roman colony, he plundered the countryside.

After this he encamped near the place called Vibonium, overran the territory of Arpi, and ravaged all of Daunia without opposition.

At this same time Fabius, after his appointment, sacrificed to the gods and then set out together with his master of the horse and the four legions that had been enrolled for the occasion.

Joining the forces that had come to his aid from Ariminum near Narnia, he relieved Gnaeus, the existing commander, of the land command and sent him off under escort to Rome, with instructions

that, should the Carthaginians make any movement by sea, he should always come to the rescue as circumstances required.

Fabius himself, with his master of the horse, took over the forces and encamped facing the Carthaginians near the place called Aecae, keeping about fifty stades from the enemy.

Chapter 89 Fabius Defers Battle

Hannibal, realizing that Fabius had arrived and wishing to strike fear into his opponents by an immediate assault, led out his army, drew close to the Roman entrenchment, and formed up for battle. But after waiting for some time, with no one coming out against him, he again withdrew to his own camp.

For Fabius had resolved neither to expose himself to risk nor to stake everything on a battle, but to make the safety of those under his command his first and foremost aim; and he held firmly to this decision.

At the outset he was despised for it and gave occasion for talk that he had turned coward and was terrified of the danger. But in time he compelled everyone to admit and agree that no one could possibly have handled the circumstances then prevailing with greater sense or prudence.

And events soon bore witness in favor of his reasoning—and reasonably so.

For it happened that the enemy's forces had been continuously trained in warfare from their earliest years; that they had as their leader a man brought up among them and schooled from boyhood in operations in the field; that they had won many battles in Iberia, and had twice in succession beaten the Romans and their allies; and, most important of all, that having given up everything else, they had one single hope of survival—in victory.

With the Roman army the very opposite of all this was the case.

For this reason Fabius was unable to commit to a decisive engagement, since his inferiority was plain to see. Instead, falling back in his calculations upon his own advantages, he kept to these and conducted the war by their means.

Chapter 90 Hannibal Enters Campania

And the Romans' advantages were inexhaustible resources and an abundance of manpower. And so, in the period that followed, he kept maneuvering alongside the enemy, and by his experience he would seize beforehand all the favorable positions.

Since he had ample supplies at his back, he never let his soldiers go out foraging or get separated from the camp at all, but kept them always concentrated and massed together, watching for the right places and moments.

And many of the enemy who, out of contempt for him, strayed from their own camp to forage he captured and destroyed in this manner.

He did this with a double purpose: at once to keep whittling down the enemy from their fixed numbers, and at the same time gradually to build up and restore the spirits of his own troops, which had been beaten down in the larger contests, through these successes in detail.

But to come down to a decisive trial of strength by mutual agreement he was in no way willing.

None of this, however, pleased Marcus, his master of the horse. Currying favor with the crowd, he disparaged Fabius to everyone, alleging that he was conducting affairs in an ignoble and sluggish way, while he himself was eager to take the risk and fight it out.

The Carthaginians, after laying waste the districts mentioned, crossed the Apennines and descended into the land of Samnium—a prosperous country untouched by war for many years—and found themselves amid such abundance of provisions that they could not exhaust the plunder by use or by destruction. They also overran the territory of Beneventum, which is a Roman colony, and took the city of Venusia, which was unwalled and full of property of every kind in great quantity.

The Romans kept following continually behind, staying one or two days' march away, yet they were unable to come near or grapple with the enemy.

Therefore Hannibal, seeing that Fabius was plainly avoiding battle but was not on the whole giving up the open country, made a bold move into the plains around Capua, and within them to the place called Falernum, convinced that one of two things would result: either he would force the enemy to fight, or he would make it clear to all that he was master of the field and that the Romans were yielding the open country to him.

Should that happen, he hoped the cities, struck with dismay, would be moved to revolt from Rome.

For up to that time, though the Romans had now been defeated in two battles, not a single city in Italy had gone over to the Carthaginians; they all kept their loyalty, even though some were suffering badly.

From this one may gauge the awe and esteem the Roman state inspired among its allies.

Chapter 91 Fertility and Beauty of the Plains Near Capua

And in fact Hannibal had good reason for arriving at these calculations.

For the plains around Capua are the most renowned in all Italy, both for their richness and their beauty and because they lie right on the sea and have at their disposal those trading ports into which sailors bound for Italy run from nearly every part of the inhabited world.

They also contain within them the most famous and most beautiful cities of Italy.

Their coastline is occupied by the people of Sinuessa, of Cumae, and of Puteoli, and besides these the Neapolitans, and lastly the nation of the Nucerians.

Of the interior, the parts toward the north are inhabited by the people of Cales and of Teanum, and those toward the east and south by the Daunii and the Nolans. In the very center of the plains lies Capua, the city that was once the most blessed of all.

The story told even by the mythographers about these plains is most plausible: these too are called the Phlegraean plains, just like others among the famous plains. And it is most likely that the gods quarreled over these in particular because of their beauty and their fertility.

Along with the advantages already mentioned, the plains are thought to be strong and altogether difficult to enter; for they are enclosed on one side by the sea and for the greater part by great mountains, continuous on every side, through which there are only three passes from the interior, narrow and hard to traverse: one from Samnium, a second from Latium, and the last from the region around the Hirpini.

For this reason the Carthaginians, by encamping in these plains as in a theater, were bound to strike everyone with astonishment at the unexpected sight, to expose their enemies as cowards shrinking from battle, and to show themselves beyond dispute the masters of the open country.

Chapter 92 Hannibal Selects Winter Quarters

Reasoning along these lines, then, Hannibal marched out of Samnite territory through the pass by the hill called Eribianus and encamped beside the river Vulturnus, which divides the plains just described into roughly two halves.

He kept his camp on the side facing Rome, and with his foraging parties he ranged over the whole plain and plundered it without hindrance.

Fabius was thoroughly alarmed at the enemy's daring stroke, but for that very reason he held all the more firmly to the course he had decided upon.

His colleague Marcus, however, along with all the military tribunes and company commanders in the army, believed they had caught the enemy in an excellent position, and thought they ought to press on, close with them on the plain, and not stand by while the most celebrated part of the country was being ravaged.

Fabius pressed forward only as far as reaching the area, going along with those who were eager and ready to take risks, but once he had drawn near to Falernum, he showed himself along the lower slopes and kept pace with the enemy, so as not to seem to his own allies to be surrendering the open country.

He would not, however, bring his army down into the plain, taking care to avoid an all-out engagement, both for the reasons already mentioned and because the enemy was plainly far superior

in cavalry.

As for Hannibal, when he had tested the enemy and ravaged the entire plain, gathering an immense quantity of plunder, he set about breaking camp, intending not to squander the booty but to deposit it in a place where he could also pass the winter, so that the army might have not merely a present feast but a steady abundance of supplies.

Fabius understood his plan—that he was preparing to make his return by the same route by which he had entered—and seeing that the ground was narrow and exceptionally well suited for an attack, he stationed about four thousand men at the defile itself, urging them to use their courage at the right moment together with the natural advantage of the terrain, while he himself, with the greater part of his force, took up a position on a commanding hill in front of the narrows.

Chapter 93 The Cattle With the Burning Fagots

[...] he encamped. When the Carthaginians arrived and pitched their camp on the level ground right at the foot of the slope, he expected to carry off their plunder without a fight, and even, in all likelihood, to put an end to the whole affair, thanks to the favorable lie of the land.

So he was occupied with these deliberations and bent upon them, considering where and how he should make use of the terrain, and which men were to begin the attack on the enemy, and from what quarter.

But Hannibal, while the enemy was making these preparations for the coming day, reasoned out the likely course of events and gave them no time or opportunity to carry out their designs.

He summoned Hasdrubal, the officer in charge of the work details, and ordered him to bundle together torches from dry brushwood of every kind, as many as possible and with all speed, and to pick out from the whole of the plunder the sturdiest of the draft oxen, about two thousand of them, and collect them in front of the camp.

When this was done, he gathered the work crews together and pointed out to them a certain ridge lying between his own camp and the narrows through which he intended to march; toward this ridge he ordered them to drive the oxen hard and by force, once the order was given, until they reached the heights.

After this he told them all to take their supper and rest at the proper hour.

As soon as the third part of the night had passed, he at once led out the work crews and ordered them to fasten the torches to the oxen's horns.

This was quickly done because of their numbers, and he gave the order to light them all and directed the men to drive the oxen forward and force them up toward the ridge tops, while he posted the spearmen behind them, telling them to help the drivers up to a certain point, but, once the animals

had taken their first headlong rush, to run out along the flanks and, raising a din, to make for the high ground and seize the ridge tops in advance, so that they might lend support and engage the enemy if they should meet any at the heights.

Chapter 94 Fabius Returns to Rome

At this same moment he himself, taking first the heavy infantry, behind them the cavalry, next the booty, and after all the rest the Iberians and Gauls, came to the narrows and the defiles. As for the Romans guarding the narrows, the moment they saw the lights advancing toward the heights, they supposed Hannibal was making his push that way, and so they abandoned the difficult ground and hurried to the help of the heights.

But as they drew near the oxen they were thrown into confusion by the lights, imagining and expecting something greater and more terrible than what was actually happening. Then, when the Carthaginian spearmen arrived, after the two sides had exchanged a few long-range shots, with the oxen now charging in among them, both parties drew apart and held to the heights, waiting expectantly for the coming of day, since they could not make out what was going on.

Fabius, for his part, was partly baffled at what was taking place and, in the poet's words, "suspected it was some trick," and partly, in keeping with his original resolve, by no means judged it right to throw the dice or stake everything on a general engagement; so he kept quiet within his palisade and waited for daylight.

Meanwhile Hannibal, his plan succeeding as he had intended, brought his force safely through the narrows along with the booty, since those guarding the difficult ground had abandoned their posts.

At daybreak, observing the men stationed on the heights facing his spearmen, he sent over some of the Iberians, who closed with the Romans, cut down about a thousand of them, and easily relieved their own light troops and brought them down.

So Hannibal, having made his exit from Falernum in this fashion, now camped in safety and proceeded to survey and plan where and how he should pass the winter, having instilled great fear and much bewilderment in the cities and peoples of Italy.

Fabius, meanwhile, was spoken of badly by the masses, on the grounds that he had unmanfully let the enemy slip away from such ground; yet he did not abandon his purpose.

And being compelled, a few days later, to go to Rome for certain sacrifices, he handed the legions over to his colleague, and as he departed he charged him repeatedly not to be as eager to harm the enemy as to see that his own men suffered no serious hurt.

But Marcus took not the slightest of this to heart, and even while Fabius was still speaking he was wholly and utterly bent on hazarding battle and risking all.

Chapter 95 Hasdrubal Equips a Fleet

Such, then, was the situation in Italy.

Around the same time as the events just described, Hasdrubal, the general appointed over Iberia, had during the winter refitted the thirty ships left him by his brother and manned ten more; and at the beginning of summer he put to sea from New Carthage with forty decked vessels, having appointed Hamilcar admiral of the fleet.

At the same time he assembled his land force out of its winter quarters and set off: with the ships he made his voyage close along the shore, and with the infantry his march along the beach, hastening to bring both forces together at the river Ebro.

Gnaeus, reckoning up the designs of the Carthaginians, at first intended to come out of his winter quarters and meet them both by land and by sea.

But on hearing of the size of their forces and the scale of their preparations, he gave up the idea of meeting them by land; instead he manned thirty-five ships and, taking from his land army the men best suited for service as marines, he put to sea and on the second day made the run from Tarraco to the region of the river Ebro.

Coming to anchor about eighty stades from the enemy, he sent ahead two fast-sailing Massiliot ships to reconnoiter; for these men took the lead and the first risks, and rendered every service to the Romans without stint.

For the people of Massilia, if any others ever did, nobly shared in the fortunes of Rome—often on later occasions, but most of all during the war with Hannibal.

When the men sent out to reconnoiter reported that the enemy's fleet happened to be lying at anchor off the mouth of the river, Scipio put to sea in haste, wishing to fall upon them suddenly [...]

Chapter 96 Naval Success of the Romans In Spain

Hasdrubal and his men, having been warned well in advance by their scouts that the enemy was bearing down on them, drew up their land forces along the shore and at the same time ordered the crews to embark in the ships.

When the Romans were already close at hand, the Carthaginians gave the signal for battle and put out to sea, having resolved to fight. They engaged the enemy and for a short while contended for the victory, but before long they began to give way.

For the support of the infantry stationed along the shore did them less good in lending them courage for the danger than it did harm by holding out a ready hope of safety.

In the end, after losing two ships together with their crews, and the oar-banks and marines of four others, they fled, turning aside toward the land.

As the Romans pressed on against them with fury, they ran their ships up onto the beach and, leaping out of the vessels, made their escape to the troops drawn up there.

The Romans came boldly right up to the shore, took in tow such of the vessels as could still be moved, and sailed off in overwhelming joy, having beaten the enemy at the first onset, gained command of the sea, and captured twenty-five of their ships.

So in Iberia, as a result of this, the prospects of the Romans had grown more promising on account of the success just described.

The Carthaginians, when news of this setback reached them, at once manned seventy ships and sent them out, having judged it essential, for the sake of all their designs, to keep their hold on the sea.

These ships made first for Sardinia, and from there put in at the region around Pisa in Italy, since those aboard were convinced that they would link up there with Hannibal's forces.

But the Romans quickly put out against them from Rome itself with a hundred and twenty quinqueremes, and when the Carthaginians learned of this advance, they sailed back again to Sardinia and after that returned once more to Carthage.

Gnaeus Servilius, who commanded the fleet just mentioned, followed the Carthaginians for some distance, convinced that he would overtake them, but as he fell far behind he gave up the chase.

He first put in at Lilybaeum in Sicily; after that he sailed down to Libya, to the island of the Cercinitae, and after taking money from them on condition of not ravaging their territory, he departed.

On the voyage back he gained control of the island of Cossyrus and, after installing a garrison in its little town, he put in again at Lilybaeum.

Chapter 97 Spanish Hostages Given Up To the Scipios

For the rest, having moored his fleet there, after no long time he himself went back to the land forces. Meanwhile the Senate, learning of the advantage that Gnaeus had won in the sea battle, and considering it useful—or rather essential—not to abandon affairs in Iberia, but to make a stand against the Carthaginians and to press the war forward, made ready twenty ships and put Publius Scipio in command of them, in accordance with the plan formed at the outset, and dispatched him in haste to his brother Gnaeus, to manage the campaign in Iberia jointly with him.

For they were deeply anxious that the Carthaginians might gain control of those regions and, securing abundant supplies and manpower, lay claim to the sea more completely and join in the attack on Italy, sending armies and money to Hannibal.

For this reason, regarding this war too as of great importance, they sent out the ships and Publius. On reaching Iberia and joining his brother, he rendered great service to the common cause.

For never before had the Romans ventured to cross the river Ebro—they had been content with the friendship and alliance of the tribes on the near side—but now they crossed it, and for the first time found the courage to lay claim to affairs on the far side, with chance, too, lending them considerable help in the circumstances that surrounded them.

For after overawing the Iberians living about the crossing, they came to the city of the Saguntines and pitched camp about forty stades away, near the temple of Aphrodite, having taken up a position naturally well suited both for safety from the enemy and for the supply of provisions from the sea; for it happened that their fleet was at the same time making its passage along the coast beside them.

Chapter 98 Treason of Abilyx

It was there that a reversal of affairs of the following kind took place. At the time when Hannibal was making his march to Italy, from all the cities of Iberia whose loyalty he distrusted he took as hostages the sons of the most prominent men, and he deposited them all in the city of the Saguntines, both because of its strength and because of the loyalty of the men left in charge of it. Now there was a certain Iberian, Abilyx by name, second to none of the Iberians in standing and in the circumstances of his life, and reputed to surpass all the rest by far in his goodwill and loyalty toward the Carthaginians.

This man, observing how affairs stood and judging that the prospects of the Romans were the more promising, worked out in his own mind a calculation about betraying the hostages—a calculation thoroughly Iberian and barbarian.

For, convinced that he could rise to great power among the Romans if he offered, at the critical moment, a proof of loyalty together with a useful service, he set about breaking faith with the Carthaginians and handing the hostages over to the Romans.

He observed that Bostar, the Carthaginian general—who had been sent by Hasdrubal to stop the Romans from crossing the river, but, not daring to do this, had withdrawn and was encamped in the parts of Saguntum facing the sea—was a guileless man, gentle by nature, and well-disposed and trusting toward himself; so he opened the matter of the hostages to Bostar, saying that, now that the Romans had crossed the river, the Carthaginians could no longer hold Iberia together by fear, but that the situation called for the goodwill of their subjects; now therefore, with the Romans drawn near and laying siege to Saguntum, and the city in danger, if Bostar were to bring out the hostages and restore them to their parents and their cities, he would frustrate the ambition of the Romans—for this was the very thing they were most eager to accomplish, by getting control of the hostages— and he would call forth the goodwill of all the Iberians toward the Carthaginians, since he had foreseen what was coming and had taken thought for the safety of the hostages. And he said that he would multiply the favor many times over by personally taking charge of the affair.

For, by restoring the boys to their cities, he would win over the goodwill not only of those who had fathered them but also of the people at large, setting before their eyes, through what was happening, the chosen policy and magnanimity of the Carthaginians toward their allies.

He urged Bostar also to expect a host of gifts privately from those who recovered their children; for each of them, unexpectedly regaining the dearest of their kin, would compete in showering benefits on the man in charge of the affair.

Chapter 99 The Boys are Restored to Their Native Cities

By arguing these points and many others like them in the same vein, he persuaded Bostar to agree to what he proposed. And for the time being Abilyx went away, having fixed a day on which he would come with everything needed for conveying the boys back.

Arriving by night at the Roman camp and falling in with some of the Iberians serving with the Romans, through them he came before the generals.

Reckoning up at length the surge of feeling and the change of allegiance toward them that would come about among the Iberians if they gained control of the hostages, he undertook to hand the boys over to them.

Publius and his colleague received the prospect with the greatest eagerness and promised large rewards, and for the moment Abilyx went off to his own country, having agreed on the day, the hour, and the place at which those who were to receive him would have to wait.

After this he took the friends he needed and came to Bostar, and when the boys had been handed over to him from Saguntum, he set out by night, as though wishing to escape notice, slipped past the enemy's stockade, and came at the appointed time and place and delivered all the hostages into the hands of the Roman commanders.

Publius and his colleague honored Abilyx exceptionally and made use of him for the restoration of the hostages to their homelands, sending along their own trusted men.

Going from city to city and, through the restoration of the boys, setting before everyone's eyes the mildness and magnanimity of the Romans in contrast to the faithlessness and harshness of the Carthaginians, and adding to this the example of his own change of sides, he spurred many of the Iberians on toward friendship with the Romans.

Bostar, having shown himself, in handing the hostages over to the enemy, more childish than befitted his years, fell into no ordinary dangers.

For the present, with the season now pressing, both sides broke up their forces into winter quarters, the affair of the boys having proved a considerable piece of luck for the Romans in view of the designs that lay before them. Such was the state of affairs in Iberia.

Chapter 100 Hannibal In Apulia

The general Hannibal—to pick up where we left off—learned from his scouts that there was a very large supply of grain in the territory around Luceria and the place called Geronium, and that Geronium was well suited for collecting it.

He therefore decided to make his winter quarters there, and advanced, marching past Mount Liburnum toward the places just mentioned. When he reached Geronium, which lies two hundred stades from Luceria, he at first tried through negotiation to win the inhabitants over to friendship and offered them guarantees of his promises; but when no one would listen, he set about besieging it.

He quickly took control of the town, put the inhabitants to death, but kept most of the houses and the walls intact, intending to use them as grain stores for the winter.

He stationed his army in front of the city and fortified the camp with a trench and palisade.

Once this was done, he sent two-thirds of his force out to gather grain, ordering each man to bring back a fixed measure every day for his own unit, this being the assigned quota for those put in charge of this management, while with the remaining third he guarded the camp and watched over the foragers at various points.

Since most of the countryside was easily traversed and flat, the men gathering the grain were practically beyond counting, and the season was at its peak for the harvest, an immense quantity of grain came to be collected every day.

Chapter 101 Successes of Minucius

Marcus, having taken over the forces from Fabius, at first kept pace with the enemy along the mountain ridges, convinced that sooner or later he would clash with the Carthaginians somewhere at the passes.

But when he heard that Hannibal's men already held Geronium, were foraging the countryside for grain, and were encamped behind a palisade thrown up in front of the city, he turned away from the ridges and came down by the spur that runs out toward the plains.

Arriving at the height that lies in the territory of Larinum and is called Calene, he encamped near it, ready by any means whatever to engage the enemy.

When Hannibal saw the enemy approaching, he left a third of his force to forage, and taking the other two-thirds advanced sixteen stades from the city and encamped on a hill facing the enemy, intending both to intimidate his opponents and to provide security for his foragers.

After this, since there was a low hill between the two camps, conveniently situated and lying close to the enemy's position, he sent out about two thousand of his spearmen while it was still night and seized it.

When day came and Marcus caught sight of them, he led out his light-armed troops and assaulted the hill.

After a spirited skirmish, the Romans finally prevailed, and afterward they moved their whole camp to this spot.

For a while, because the camps faced each other, Hannibal kept the greater part of his force close to himself.

But as more days passed, he was forced to detach some men to pasture the livestock and others to forage for grain, being eager—in keeping with his original plan—both to avoid spoiling his plunder and to gather as much grain as possible, so that there would be an abundance of everything for his men during the winter, and no less for the pack animals and the horses; for he placed the greatest hopes of his army in his cavalry corps.

Chapter 102 The Romans Capture the Carthaginian Foragers

It was at this point that Marcus, observing that a large part of the enemy was scattered about the countryside on the tasks just described, picked the most favorable hour of the day and led out his army.

Coming up close to the Carthaginian camp, he drew up his heavy infantry in line, and dividing his cavalry and light troops into detachments, sent them against the foragers with orders to take no prisoners.

When this happened, Hannibal fell into great difficulty: he was strong enough neither to march out against the troops drawn up before him nor to relieve his men scattered about the countryside.

Of the Romans, those sent against the foragers killed many of the scattered men, while the troops drawn up in line finally reached such a pitch of contempt that they even began tearing down the palisade and all but besieging the Carthaginians.

Hannibal was in dire straits, yet even under this storm he held on, beating off those who came near and barely keeping his camp, until Hasdrubal, gathering up the men who had fled from the countryside into the camp near Geronium—about four thousand of them—came to his aid.

Then, taking a little courage, he sallied out, drew up his line a short distance in front of the camp, and with difficulty fended off the immediate danger.

Marcus, having killed many of the enemy in the fighting around the palisade and still more out in the countryside, withdrew for the time being, with high hopes for what was to come.

The next day, when the Carthaginians abandoned the palisade, he advanced and occupied their camp.

For Hannibal, anxious that the Romans might seize by night the now-deserted camp at Geronium and become masters of his baggage and stores, decided to withdraw there himself and make his camp there once more.

From this time on, the Carthaginians went about their foraging more warily and cautiously, while the Romans, on the contrary, did so more boldly and rashly.

Chapter 103 Minucius Made Co-Dictator

The people in Rome, when news of what had happened reached them magnified beyond the truth, were overjoyed: first, because out of their previous despair about the whole situation some sort of change for the better seemed to be dawning for them, and second, because they could now believe that the inaction and dismay of the armies up to this point had come about not through any cowardice in the forces, but through the caution of their commander.

And so everyone blamed and found fault with Fabius for handling his opportunities without daring, while they exalted Marcus so highly for what had occurred that something now happened which had never happened before: they made him too a commander with absolute authority, convinced that he would soon bring the campaign to an end. Thus there came to be two dictators for the same operations —something that had never before occurred among the Romans.

When Marcus was informed of the people's goodwill and of the office granted him by the popular assembly, he was doubly spurred on to take risks and act boldly against the enemy.

Fabius too returned to the army, in no way altered by what had happened, but holding even more firmly to his original judgment.

Seeing that Marcus was puffed up, contending against him at every turn, and on the whole strongly bent on risking a battle, he offered him the following choice: either to command by turns, or to divide the forces and let each use his own legions according to his own preference.

Marcus accepted the division all too gladly, and so they split the troops and encamped apart from one another, about twelve stades apart.

Chapter 104 Minucius In Difficulties

Hannibal, partly from what he heard from the prisoners taken and partly from what he observed of what was being done, came to understand the rivalry between the two commanders, as well as the impetuosity and ambition of Marcus.

For this reason, judging that what was happening among his opponents told not against him but in his favor, he turned his attention to Marcus, eager to strip away his boldness and to forestall his rash impulse.

There was a certain rise of ground between his own camp and that of Marcus, capable of harming either side, and he set out to seize it. Knowing clearly, from the success that had gone before, that Marcus would come to oppose this move at once, hand to hand, he devised the following scheme.

Since the ground around the hill was bare of trees but full of many folds and hollows of every kind, he sent out during the night, into the most suitable hiding places, parties of two and three hundred at a time—five hundred horsemen in all, and light-armed and other foot soldiers numbering in all about five thousand.

And so that they should not be spotted early by the men going out to forage, at the first light of dawn he seized the hill with his light troops.

When Marcus saw what was happening, he thought it a piece of luck and immediately sent out his light-armed troops, ordering them to fight and contend for the position; after them he sent the cavalry.

Chapter 105 Cautious Fabius Saves the Day

Next, behind these, he himself led up the heavy infantry in a continuous line, just as before, handling every part of the operation in much the same way. Just as day was breaking, and everyone's thoughts and eyes were wholly absorbed by the men fighting on the hill, the planting of the ambush went unsuspected.

As Hannibal kept sending up fresh reinforcements to his men on the hill, and followed close on their heels himself with his cavalry and his main force, it soon came about that the cavalry of the two sides also clashed.

When this happened, and the Roman light troops were being hard pressed by the mass of the cavalry, they fell back upon the heavy infantry and threw it into confusion; and at the same moment the signal was given to the men in the ambush, who appeared on every side and charged in. So now not only the light troops but the whole army faced grave danger for the Romans.

At this critical moment Fabius, seeing what was happening and gravely afraid that they would suffer a complete disaster, led out his forces and hurried to the aid of the men in danger.

When he quickly drew near, the Romans took heart again; and although they had by now lost all order, they gathered once more around their standards and withdrew, taking refuge under the protection of his army—having lost many of their light troops and still more of the men from the legions, including their best soldiers.

Hannibal's men, struck by the unbroken strength and good order of the relieving army, broke off the pursuit and the fighting.

To those who had been in the thick of the danger it was plain that everything had been all but lost through the rashness of Marcus, and had been saved—both now and before—through the caution of

Fabius.

And to those at Rome it now became openly clear what a difference there is between a soldier's recklessness and vainglory on the one hand, and a general's foresight and steady, sensible calculation on the other.

In any case, the Romans, taught by events, threw up a single palisade and all encamped together in one place, and from then on gave their attention to Fabius and to the orders he issued.

The Carthaginians, for their part, dug a trench across the ground between the hill and their own camp, and threw a palisade around the crest of the captured hill and set a guard upon it; and from then on they made their preparations for wintering in safety.

Chapter 106 New Consuls Elected

As the season for elections drew near, the Romans chose as their commanders Lucius Aemilius and Gaius Terentius. Once these had been appointed, the dictators laid down their office.

The consuls of the previous year, Gnaeus Servilius and Marcus Regulus—who had been appointed in succession after the death of Flaminius—were then commissioned as proconsuls by Aemilius and his colleagues; and, taking over command in the field, they managed the affairs of the army according to their own judgment.

Aemilius and his colleagues, after consulting with the Senate, at once enrolled the number of soldiers still lacking for the whole undertaking and dispatched them.

They instructed Gnaeus and his men by no means to risk a general engagement of any kind, but to carry out partial skirmishes as vigorously and as continuously as possible, in order to train the young men and prepare them, full of confidence, for the decisive battles—since they reckoned that their earlier reverses had come about, in no small part, from their having relied on troops that were newly levied and wholly untrained.

They themselves sent Lucius Postumius, a praetor with six lictors, to Gaul with an army, wishing to create a diversion against the Gauls who were serving with Hannibal.

They also took thought for bringing back the fleet wintering at Lilybaeum, and sent across to the commanders in Iberia everything that was urgently needed for the campaign.

So these men busied themselves carefully with these and the rest of their preparations.

Gnaeus and his officers, having received their instructions from the consuls, handled every detail according to the consuls' judgment.

For this reason I will refrain from writing more about them. Nothing decisive or worth recording was done at all, because of these instructions and because of the circumstances of the season; there were

only more frequent skirmishes and partial engagements, in which the Roman commanders won a good name—for they were thought to handle each matter both bravely and sensibly.

Chapter 107 Hannibal Occupies Cannae

So through the winter and the spring season the two armies remained encamped facing each other. But when the time was already at hand for drawing supplies from the year's crops, Hannibal moved his army out of the camp near Geronium.

Judging it to his advantage to force the enemy by every possible means to give battle, he seized the citadel of the town called Cannae.

For it was here that the Romans had been gathering their grain and other supplies from the region around Canusium, and from here these were continually brought up to the camp as need required.

The town itself had in fact already been razed earlier; but now that the stores and the citadel had been captured, no small disturbance arose among the Roman forces—for they were in difficulty not only on account of the supplies, because the aforesaid place had been taken, but also because of its commanding position over the surrounding country.

So they kept sending to Rome and asking what they should do, since, if they drew near the enemy, they would not be able to avoid battle, with the country being laid waste and all their allies hanging in suspense.

The Senate resolved that they should fight and engage the enemy. They told Gnaeus and his men to hold back still, while they themselves sent out the consuls.

It happened that everyone looked to Aemilius and rested most of their hopes on him, both because of the nobility of his life in general and because, a short time before, he was thought to have conducted the war against the Illyrians both bravely and with advantage to the state.

They resolved to risk the venture with eight legions, something that had never before happened among the Romans, each legion containing about five thousand men apart from the allies.

For the Romans, as we have said somewhere before, always levy four legions. Each legion takes about four thousand foot and two hundred horse.

But whenever some more pressing need arises, they make the foot in each legion about five thousand and the horse three hundred.

Of the allies they make the number of foot equal to that of the Roman legions, but the horse, as a rule, three times as many.

Half of these allies, together with two legions, they assign to each of the consuls and send them out on campaign.

Most of their battles they decide with a single consul and two legions and the aforesaid number of allies, and only rarely do they employ them all at one moment and for a single venture.

On this occasion, however, they were so dismayed and fearful of what was to come that they chose to risk the venture not with four but with eight Roman legions together.

Chapter 108 Aemilius Paulus Harangues the Army

For this reason they summoned Aemilius and his colleague, set vividly before their eyes the magnitude of what would follow from the battle in either direction, and sent them off with instructions to bring the whole matter to a decision at the right moment, with courage and in a manner worthy of their homeland.

When the two men reached the army and assembled the troops, they made the Senate's decision clear to the rank and file and urged upon them what the present circumstances demanded, Lucius delivering his words out of genuine personal feeling.

Most of what he said was directed toward this single aim: the recent disasters that had befallen them. For it was on this account, more than anything, that the men had become demoralized and stood in need of encouragement.

He therefore tried to establish that, as for the defeats in the earlier battles, one could find not just one or two but several causes that had brought about such an outcome, but that under present conditions no excuse remained—if only they proved themselves men—for failing to defeat the enemy.

For at that earlier time, he said, the two commanders had never fought side by side with the legions, nor had they made use of well-trained forces; instead the troops had been newly levied and had never set eyes on any danger at all.

And, most important of all, the men had been so ignorant of the enemy's situation that they had drawn up for battle and descended into all-out combat practically without ever having laid eyes on their opponents.

"For the men who were beaten at the Trebia River had arrived from Sicily only the day before, and at first light on the very next day they were drawn up for battle.

And as for those who fought in Etruria, not only had they not seen the enemy beforehand, but they could not even make them out during the battle itself, because of the misfortune that occurred with the weather.

Now, at any rate, everything is the opposite of what has just been described."

Chapter 109 Paulus's Speech Continued

“For in the first place, both of us consuls are here, not only to share the dangers with you ourselves, but we have also persuaded last year’s commanders to remain on hand and take part in these same struggles.

You yourselves, moreover, have not only seen the enemy’s weaponry, their formations, and their numbers, but you have now spent a second year fighting against them almost daily.

Since, then, every detail is the opposite of what obtained in the previous battles, it is reasonable to expect that the outcome of the present contest will likewise be the opposite.

For it would be strange—indeed, one might say, impossible—that men who in piecemeal skirmishes, engaging on equal terms, have for the most part come out on top should, when drawn up all together and outnumbering the enemy by more than two to one, be defeated.

Therefore, men, since everything has been prepared for you to win, the situation needs only one thing: your will and your eagerness—and on that point I do not think it fitting to exhort you further.

For those who serve someone else for pay, or who as allies are about to risk their lives on behalf of others—men for whom the moment of battle itself is most fearful, while the consequences make little difference to them—for such men a manner of exhortation is necessary.

But for men like you now, whose danger is not for the sake of others but for yourselves, your homeland, your wives, and your children, and for whom what follows afterward makes a difference many times greater than the dangers of the moment—for such men only a reminder is needed, not exhortation.

For who would not wish, above all, to win as he fights, and, if that should prove impossible, to die fighting first rather than live to look upon the outrage and ruin of those I have named?

Therefore, men, apart from anything I say, take it upon yourselves to set before your eyes the difference between losing and winning and all that goes with each, and so present yourselves for the battle as though it is not merely the legions that your country now risks, but its very existence.

For if the present situation should somehow be decided otherwise, she has nothing left to add to her current resources that would let her prevail over the enemy.

She has staked all her eagerness and strength upon you, and she holds all her hopes of survival in your hands. Do not now disappoint her of them, but render to your homeland the thanks that are its due, and make it clear to all mankind that the earlier defeats came about not because Romans are lesser men than Carthaginians, but because of the inexperience of those who fought at the time and because of the circumstances arising from the conditions then.”

Having delivered these and similar words of encouragement, Lucius then dismissed the troops.

Chapter 110 Skirmishes Before Cannae

The next day they broke camp and led the army to where they heard the enemy was encamped. Arriving on the second day, they pitched camp about fifty stades from the enemy.

Now Lucius, observing that the surrounding terrain was flat and bare, said they ought not to engage where the enemy was superior in cavalry, but should instead draw the enemy on and advance into ground of a kind where the battle would be decided more by the infantry forces.

But since Gaius, out of inexperience, held the opposite view, there was disagreement and friction between the commanders—which is the most dangerous thing of all.

When command fell to Gaius for the following day—since the consuls take over authority on alternate days, according to custom—he broke camp and advanced, wanting to draw near the enemy, despite Lucius's many protests and attempts to stop him.

Hannibal took up his light-armed troops and his cavalry, went out to meet them, and, falling upon them unexpectedly while they were still on the march, came to grips with them and threw them into great confusion.

The Romans withstood the first onslaught by putting forward some of their heavy-armed troops; then, sending in their javelin-men and cavalry, they gained the upper hand all through the engagement, because the Carthaginians had no significant reserves on hand, whereas the Romans had some maniples mixed in with their light troops to share the fighting.

For the moment, then, with night coming on, the two sides separated, the attack having turned out for the Carthaginians otherwise than they had hoped.

But on the next day Lucius, judging it best neither to fight nor any longer able to lead the army away safely, encamped with two-thirds of it beside the river called the Aufidus—the only river that cuts right through the Apennines—

(this being a continuous mountain range that separates all the watercourses of Italy, sending some to the Tyrrhenian Sea and others to the Adriatic; the Aufidus runs through it, having its sources in the regions of Italy facing the Tyrrhenian side and discharging into the Adriatic)— while with the remaining third he set up a fortified camp across the river, eastward from the crossing, about ten stades from his own camp and a little more from the enemy's, intending that these men should both cover the foraging parties from the camp on the far side and harass those of the Carthaginians.

Chapter 111 Hannibal Encourages his Troops

Hannibal, at this same time, seeing that circumstances were calling for a battle and an engagement with the enemy, but wary that his men might be demoralized by their recent setback, decided that the moment called for some encouragement and assembled the troops.

When they had gathered, he ordered them all to look around at the surrounding terrain and asked them what greater thing they could have prayed to the gods for, under the present circumstances, had they been given the choice, than to settle the whole issue in ground like this while holding so great a superiority in cavalry over the enemy.

When they all signaled their agreement at what he said, because its truth was so plain, he went on: "For this, then, first give thanks to the gods; for it is they who, in helping to secure our victory, have led the enemy into ground like this.

And second, give thanks to me, because I have forced the enemy to fight—for they can no longer escape it—and to fight openly on ground favorable to us.

But to exhort you now at any length to be confident and eager for the danger does not seem to me at all appropriate.

When you had no experience of fighting the Romans, that was necessary, and I did then address many arguments to you, with examples; but now that you have, by common agreement, beaten the Romans three times in a row in battles of such magnitude, what argument could instill stronger confidence in you than the deeds themselves?

So then, through the earlier battles you have gained control of the countryside and its riches, in keeping with my promises, since I have proved truthful in everything I told you. But the present contest is for the cities and the riches within them.

If you prevail in it, you will at once be masters of all Italy; freed from your present hardships and gaining control of the whole prosperity of Rome, you will become, through this battle, the leaders and lords of everything.

Therefore there is no longer any need for words, but for deeds; for, if the gods are willing, I am convinced that I shall make good my promises to you any moment now."

Having said this and things much like it, while the men eagerly signaled their approval, he praised them, welcomed their enthusiasm, and dismissed the assembly. He at once made camp, setting his palisade along the same side of the river as the larger camp of the enemy.

Chapter 112 The Armies Face To Face

On the following day he ordered everyone to busy themselves with their equipment and with getting into condition. The day after that he drew up his troops along the river and made it clear that he was eager to fight the enemy.

Lucius Aemilius, however, was displeased with the ground, and since he could see that the Carthaginians would soon be forced to move camp in order to procure supplies, he kept quiet, securing his encampments with reserve guards.

Hannibal waited a considerable time, and when no one came out against him, he withdrew the rest of his army back into the entrenched camp, but loosed his Numidians against the men who were fetching water from the smaller camp.

When the Numidians charged right up to the rampart itself and prevented the watering, Gaius was provoked still further by this; the troops too were straining for battle and bore the postponements with impatience.

For waiting is the heaviest of all burdens to any man: but once a thing has been decided, then whatever one must suffer, even out of all the things reckoned terrible, must be endured.

When word reached Rome that the two armies were encamped facing each other and that clashes between the advance forces were taking place day after day, the city was on edge and full of fear, for the mass of the people dreaded what was coming, because they had so often already been beaten before, and in their minds they foresaw and reckoned in advance what would happen if they were utterly defeated.

At that time all the oracles preserved among them were on everyone's lips; every temple and every house was full of portents and omens, so that vows and sacrifices and supplications and prayers to the gods filled the city.

For in times of crisis the Romans are formidable at propitiating both gods and men, and they consider nothing of the sort unseemly or beneath them in such circumstances.

Chapter 113 The Order of Battle

When Gaius took over the command on the next day in succession, just as the sun was beginning to rise, he set the army in motion from both camps at once.

Those from the larger camp he led across the river and at once drew up in line; joining to them those from the other camp, he arranged the whole force on the same straight line, making them all face south.

The Roman cavalry he stationed on the right wing, right beside the river; the infantry he extended continuously next to them along the same line, setting the maniples closer together than usual and making the depth of each company many times greater than its frontage.

The cavalry of the allies he posted on the left wing; and in front of the whole force he placed the light-armed troops, at a distance.

Together with the allies there were about eighty thousand infantry and a little more than six thousand cavalry.

At the same time Hannibal sent his Balearic slingers and javelin-men across the river and posted them in front of his force; the rest he led out of the camp and, bringing them over the stream at two places,

drew them up against the enemy.

Right at the river, on his left, he placed the Iberian and Gallic cavalry facing the Roman cavalry; next to them, half of the Libyan infantry armed in the heavy fashion; next to these, the Iberians and Gauls; beside them he placed the remaining portion of the Libyans; and on the right wing he posted the Numidian cavalry.

Once he had extended everything along a single line, he then took the central units of the Iberians and Gauls and pushed them forward, arranging the other units next to them in proportionate gradation, making the bulge crescent-shaped and thinning out the formation of these troops, his intention being that the Libyans should hold the position of a reserve in the battle, while the Iberians and Gauls bore the brunt of the first fighting.

Chapter 114 Arms of the Libyans, Iberians, and Gauls

The Libyans' equipment was Roman, for Hannibal had armed them all with a selection from the spoils taken in the earlier battle.

As for the Iberians and Gauls, their shields were much alike, but their swords were of opposite design.

For the Iberian sword could thrust just as effectively as it could strike downward, whereas the Gallic blade had only one use, the downward cut, and that one only with room to swing.

Since their companies were drawn up alternately—the Gauls naked, the Iberians arrayed in their national fashion in short linen tunics bordered with purple—the sight that resulted was at once strange and terrifying.

The whole strength of the Carthaginian cavalry came to about ten thousand, and that of the infantry to not much more than forty thousand, including the Gauls. Aemilius held the Roman right, Gaius the left, and the center was held by Marcus and Gnaeus, who had been the commanders of the previous year.

On the Carthaginian side, Hasdrubal held the left and Hanno the right, while at the center was Hannibal himself, with his brother Mago beside him.

Since the Roman line faced south, as I said above, and the Carthaginian line faced north, the rising sun did no harm to either of them.

Chapter 115 The Battle of Cannae

When the first clash had come about between the forward troops, at the outset the fighting among the light-armed themselves was evenly matched.

But as soon as the Iberian and Gallic cavalry on the left closed with the Romans, these men made the battle a real and barbaric one: for the combat did not follow the rules, with wheeling and counter-maneuver, but once they had collided they fought grappling man against man, dismounting from their horses.

When the Carthaginian horsemen had won the upper hand and killed most of their opponents in the struggle—for the Romans all fought with passion and courage—and were driving the rest along the river, slaughtering them and laying hands on them without mercy, then the infantry lines took over from the light-armed and engaged one another.

For a short time the ranks of the Iberians and Gauls held and fought the Romans gallantly; but after that, crushed by the weight, they gave way and fell back, breaking up the crescent.

The Roman maniples, following them eagerly, easily cut through the enemy's line, since the Gauls had been drawn up thinly while the Romans had massed together from the wings toward the center and the point of danger.

For the wings and the center did not come into action at the same time; rather the center engaged first, because the Gauls, having been arranged in a crescent formation, projected far ahead of the wings, since the convex of the crescent faced the enemy.

But as the Romans pursued these troops and crowded in toward the center and the yielding part of the enemy, they pressed forward so far that on either side, along their exposed flanks, the Libyans in their heavy armor came up against them: those on the right wing wheeled to the left and, charging from the spear side, took position alongside the enemy's flank, while those on the left made their turn to the right and charged in from the shield side—the situation itself showing them what had to be done.

The result, just as Hannibal had foreseen, was that the Romans were cut off in the middle by the Libyans, caught there by their headlong pursuit of the Gauls.

Chapter 116 The Slaughter at Cannae

These men, then, no longer fighting in phalanx formation but turning individually and by maniples against those who were attacking them on the flanks kept up the fight. Lucius Aemilius, though he had been stationed on the right wing from the start and had shared in part of the cavalry struggle, was nevertheless still alive at this point.

Wishing to act in keeping with the words he had spoken in his address to the troops, and seeing that the crux of the whole decision of the battle lay in the infantry legions, he rode along to the center of the entire battle line. There he both engaged personally and laid hands on the enemy, and at the same time encouraged and urged on his own soldiers.

Hannibal did the same on his side, for he too had taken up his position from the beginning at this part of his forces.

The Numidians on the right wing, charging the enemy cavalry posted on the Roman left, neither inflicted nor suffered much harm because of the peculiar manner of their fighting; but they did render the enemy ineffective by keeping them occupied and charging in upon them from every side.

But when Hasdrubal's men, having killed all but a very few of the cavalry by the river, came across from the left to support the Numidians, the Roman allied cavalry, foreseeing their attack, gave way and withdrew.

At this moment Hasdrubal appears to have done a practical and shrewd thing. Seeing that the Numidians were many in number and most effective and most fearsome against troops once they had been forced to give ground, he handed the fugitives over to the Numidians and led his own men toward the infantry battle, eager to bring help to the Libyans.

Falling upon the Roman legions from the rear and launching his squadrons against them in relays at many points at once, he both heartened the Libyans and humbled and dismayed the spirits of the Romans.

It was at this moment that Lucius Aemilius too, after suffering violent blows in the thick of hand-to-hand fighting, ended his life—a man who, if any ever did, rendered his country every duty throughout the rest of his life and at its final hour.

The Romans, as long as they could fight by wheeling about on the surface of their ranks to face those who had encircled them, held out; but as those on the outside were continually being killed, and they were gradually pressed into a smaller and smaller compass, in the end they all fell there on the spot—among them Marcus Atilius and Gnaeus Servilius, the consuls of the previous year, men who had proved themselves brave and worthy of Rome in the moment of danger.

During this slaughter and struggle the Numidians, pursuing the fleeing cavalry, killed most of them and threw the rest down from their horses.

A few escaped to Venusia, among them Gaius Terentius, the Roman commander, a man who made his own soul a disgrace and his magistracy a loss to his country.

Chapter 117 Superiority in Cavalry Wins Battles

So the battle of Cannae between the Romans and the Carthaginians was fought out in this way—a battle in which the bravest of men were found among both the victors and the vanquished.

This became clear from the facts themselves. Of the six thousand cavalry, seventy escaped to Venusia with Gaius, and about three hundred of the allied horse made their way safely, scattered, into the towns; while of the infantry, about ten thousand who were not part of the main battle were taken prisoner fighting, and from the battle itself only about three thousand perhaps escaped to the neighboring towns.

All the rest, numbering about seventy thousand, died nobly—the throng of cavalry having, both on this occasion and before it, furnished the Carthaginians their greatest asset for winning.

And it became clear to later generations that for the occasions of war it is better to have half the number of infantry but be superior in cavalry than to risk a decisive battle with all forces evenly matched against the enemy.

On Hannibal's side, about four thousand Gauls fell, about fifteen hundred Iberians and Libyans, and about two hundred cavalry.

The Romans who were taken alive had been outside the main battle, and for the following reason.

Lucius had left ten thousand infantry at his own camp, so that if Hannibal, neglecting the protection of his palisade, should draw up his whole army for battle, these men might fall upon it during the fighting and gain control of the enemy's baggage; or, if Hannibal should foresee what might happen and leave a sufficient guard, the contest over the main issue would be against fewer of the enemy.

They were taken captive in roughly the following way. When Hannibal had left an adequate guard at his palisade, the Romans, as soon as the battle began, laid siege to it according to their orders, assaulting those left behind in the Carthaginian camp. At first the defenders held out; but when they were already under pressure, and Hannibal had by then decided the battle at every point, he came to their relief, routed the Romans, penned them up in their own camp, killed two thousand of them, and took all the rest prisoner.

In the same way the Numidians stormed those who had fled together to the strongholds in the countryside and brought them back—about two thousand of the cavalry who had been put to flight.

Chapter 118 The Consequences of the Battle of Cannae

The battle having been decided in the way described, the whole situation took a turn that followed from what both sides had expected.

For the Carthaginians, through this action, were at once masters of almost all the rest of the coast.

The Tarentines, indeed, immediately put themselves into their hands; the Argyrippans and some of the Capuans summoned Hannibal; and all the rest were now already looking to the Carthaginians.

These had high hopes of becoming masters of Rome itself at the first onset.

The Romans, for their part, at once gave up the rule of Italy on account of the defeat, and were in great fear and danger both for themselves and for the soil of their fatherland, expecting that at any moment Hannibal himself would arrive.

And indeed, as though Fortune were measuring out yet more and joining in the contest against them on top of what had already happened, it came about that a few days later, while fear gripped the city,

the general who had been sent to Gaul fell unexpectedly into an ambush and was utterly destroyed, together with his army, by the Gauls.

Nevertheless the Senate left undone none of the things in its power, but exhorted the people, secured the affairs of the city, and deliberated about the present crisis like men. This became evident from what happened afterward; for although the Romans were on that occasion admittedly beaten and had yielded their claim to excellence in arms, by the distinctive character of their constitution and by deliberating well they not only recovered the rule of Italy, afterward defeating the Carthaginians, but within a few years became masters of the whole inhabited world.

Accordingly, we shall close this book at these events—those of Spain and of Italy that the one-hundred-and-fortieth Olympiad embraced, having now set them forth.

When, in recounting the Greek affairs that took place during the same Olympiad, we come up to these same times, then at last we propose to compose, on its own, an account of the Roman constitution itself, believing that an exposition of it is not only suited to the framework of our history, but also contributes greatly, for men who love learning and are concerned with practical affairs, toward the reform and construction of constitutions.

Book IV

Topographical view of Byzantium and the currents of the Bosporus. Book IV, 38–45.

Chapter 1 Review of Achaean History

In the book before this one I set out the causes of the second war that broke out between the Romans and the Carthaginians, and I gave an account of Hannibal's invasion of Italy.

In addition to this, I described the battles the two sides fought against one another, down to the engagement that took place by the river Aufidus and the city of Cannae.

Now I shall go through the affairs of Greece that were carried out during the same period as the events already related, beginning from the 140th Olympiad.

But first I shall briefly remind those who take up this work of the preliminary account I gave in the second book concerning Greek affairs, and especially concerning the Achaean nation—since this political body too achieved a remarkable growth, both in the times before our own and in our own day.

I began with Tisamenus, one of the sons of Orestes, and stated that from his time the Achaeans were ruled by kings in unbroken succession down to Ogygus; that afterwards they adopted, by an excellent choice, a democratic constitution; and that at first they were broken apart, city by city and village by village, by the kings from Macedonia.

Following this, I set out to tell how they began once more to unite in common purpose, and when and which cities were the first to band together.

Next in order I explained by what method and with what policy they went about winning over the cities and undertook to bring all the Peloponnesians under the same name and constitution.

After giving a general account of the plan just described, I then touched continuously on the particular actions, until I came to the downfall of Cleomenes, king of the Spartans.

Having summed up the events of this preliminary survey down to the deaths of Antigonus, Seleucus, and Ptolemy—since all of these passed away at about the same time—I announced, as what remained, that I would make the beginning of my own work the events that follow upon those already described.

Chapter 2 Why Begin With This Period of History

I judged this to be the best starting point, first because it is here that the history of Aratus ends; and by joining my narrative to his I have chosen to give the account of Greek affairs that follows directly upon it.

Second, because the periods that follow, and those that fall within my own history, run together in such a way that some belong to our own time and some to the time of our fathers; from which it comes about that I was personally present at some of the events, while others I have heard from those who saw them.

To reach further back in time, and to write down a report of a report, did not seem to me a safe basis either for forming judgments or for making assertions.

But above all I began from these times because it was then that fortune, so to speak, made everything in the inhabited world new.

For Philip, the natural son of Demetrius, while still a boy, had just taken over the rule of the Macedonians; Achaeus, who held power over the region on this side of the Taurus, possessed not merely the outward standing of a king but real power as well; and Antiochus, surnamed the Great, a little earlier, on the death of his brother Seleucus, had succeeded while still quite young to the kingdom of Syria.

At the same time as these, Ariarathes took over the rule of Cappadocia, and Ptolemy Philopator had in the same period become master of affairs in Egypt.

Not long afterward Lycurgus was established as king of the Spartans, and the Carthaginians had recently chosen Hannibal as their general for the operations already mentioned.

With such a renewal taking place in all the dynasties, there was bound to be the beginning of new affairs; for this is the natural course of things and tends to happen so—and that is just what came about at this time.

For the Romans and the Carthaginians entered upon the war already described; Antiochus and Ptolemy, at the same time as these, the war over Coele-Syria; and the Achaeans and Philip the war against the Aetolians and the Spartans. The causes of this last came about as follows.

Chapter 3 Dorimachus In the Peloponnese

The Aetolians had long chafed at peace and at having to meet expenses from their own resources, since they were accustomed to live off their neighbors and needed lavish means to support their ingrained arrogance. Enslaved to it, they always live a grasping, beast-like life, regarding nothing as friendly and everything as hostile.

Nevertheless, in the time before this, so long as Antigonus was alive, fear of the Macedonians kept them quiet.

But when he departed this life, leaving behind the boy Philip, they grew contemptuous and began looking for openings and pretexts for meddling in the Peloponnese—drawn by their old habit of

plundering that country, and at the same time reckoning that they were a match for the Achaeans themselves in war.

While they were set on this purpose, chance gave them a little assistance, and they got the following openings for their design.

Dorimachus of Trichonium was the son of that Nicostratus who broke the truce at the festival of the Pamboeotia. Being young and full of Aetolian impetuosity and greed, he was sent out by public authority to the city of the Phigaleans, which lies in the Peloponnese, on the borders of the Messenians, and which at that time happened to be in political union with the Aetolians— ostensibly to guard the territory and city of the Phigaleans, but in fact holding the post of a spy upon affairs in the Peloponnese.

When a band of pirates gathered and came to him at Phigalea, he had no way of providing them with plunder by lawful means, since the general peace among the Greeks that had been concluded under Antigonus was still in force.

At last, at a loss what to do, he allowed the pirates to carry off the livestock of the Messenians, although they were friends and allies.

At first they did their wrong to the flocks on the outlying lands, but afterward, as their recklessness grew, they set about breaking into the farmhouses as well, appearing without warning by night.

The Messenians were indignant at this and sent embassies to Dorimachus; but at first he turned a deaf ear, wishing partly to benefit the men under his command and partly to profit himself by taking a share of the plunder.

When the embassies kept coming in greater numbers because of the continual wrongdoing, he said that he would come in person to Messene to argue the case against those who were bringing charges against the Aetolians.

But when he arrived, and the injured parties approached him, he ridiculed some with mockery, browbeat others, and frightened still others with abuse.

Chapter 4 Dorimachus Leaves Messene

While he was still staying in Messene, the pirates approached the city by night, set scaling-ladders against the walls, and broke into the farmstead called Chiron’s villa; those who resisted they cut down, and the rest of the household slaves they bound and led away, together with the cattle.

The Messenian ephors, who had long been grieved both at what was happening and at Dorimachus’s presence among them, and who now felt themselves insulted on top of it, summoned him before the assembled magistrates.

On this occasion Sciron, who was at that time an ephor of the Messenians and was also highly esteemed by his fellow citizens for the rest of his conduct, advised that they should not let Dorimachus leave the city unless he restored to the Messenians everything that had been lost and handed over the wrongdoers to stand trial for those who had been killed.

When everyone signified that Sciron was speaking justly, Dorimachus flew into a rage and declared that they were complete fools if they imagined they were now insulting Dorimachus and not the common body of the Aetolians; in general he regarded what was happening as outrageous, and said that they would incur a collective reckoning, and would suffer it deservedly.

Now there was at that time in Messene a depraved fellow named Babyrtas, a man debased in every possible way, upon whom, if one put Dorimachus's sun-hat and cloak, it was impossible to tell them apart, so closely did he resemble the said Dorimachus in his voice and in the other features of his body —and this did not escape Dorimachus's notice.

So while he was speaking to the Messenians in this threatening and exceedingly arrogant manner, Sciron, in a burst of anger, said: "Do you suppose we care a whit for you or your bluster, Babyrtas?" When this was said, Dorimachus for the moment yielded to the circumstances and agreed to make redress to the Messenians for all the wrongs that had been done; but on returning to Aetolia he took what had been said so bitterly and so hard that, having no other reasonable pretext, for this reason alone he kindled the war against the Messenians.

Chapter 5 The Revenge of Dorimachus

At this time the general of the Aetolians was Ariston. Because of certain physical infirmities he was unfit for active military service, and since he was moreover a kinsman of Dorimachus and Scopas, he had in effect handed over the whole of his command to one of the two.

Now Dorimachus did not dare to urge the Aetolians publicly to take up the war against the Messenians, because he had no pretext worth mentioning. Everyone knew that his impulse arose from his own lawless conduct and from the insult he had suffered.

So he gave up that idea and instead set about privately persuading Scopas to join him in his design against the Messenians. He pointed out that there was no danger from Macedonia, on account of the youth of its ruler—for Philip was then no more than seventeen years old—and he set before him the hostility of the Spartans toward the Messenians, and reminded him of the goodwill and alliance of the Eleans toward themselves. From all this he argued that their invasion of Messenia would be perfectly safe.

But the heart of his Aetolian appeal was that he held before their eyes the profits to be had from the Messenian territory, which was unguarded and had remained the only part of the Peloponnese untouched throughout the Cleomenic war.

On top of all this he urged the popularity they would win among the mass of the Aetolians as a result.

As for the Achaeans, he argued that if they tried to block the passage through their land, the Aetolians could not be blamed for defending themselves; and if the Achaeans kept quiet, they would be no hindrance to the enterprise.

Against the Messenians, he said, they would not be short of a pretext, since the Messenians had long been guilty of wrongdoing by promising the Achaeans and Macedonians that they would join their alliance.

By saying this, and other things to the same effect, he stirred up such eagerness in Scopas and his friends that, without waiting for a general assembly of the Aetolians, without consulting the Apocleti, and without taking any of the proper constitutional steps—acting entirely on their own impulses and decisions—they launched a war simultaneously against the Messenians, Epirotes, Achaeans, Acarnanians, and Macedonians.

Chapter 6 Acts of Hostility Against Macedonia, Epirus, and Acarnania

At sea they at once sent out privateers, who fell in with a royal Macedonian vessel near Cythera, brought it crew and all to Aetolia, and sold off the ship-owners, the sailors, and the marines, along with the ship itself. They also ravaged the coast of Epirus, using Cephallenian ships to carry out the outrage; and they set about seizing Thyrium in Acarnania as well.

At the same time they secretly sent some men through the Peloponnese, who occupied the stronghold called Clarium in the heart of the territory of Megalopolis. Using it as a market for their plunder, they made it their base for their raids.

However, Timoxenus, the general of the Achaeans, together with Taurion—who had been left by Antigonus in charge of the king's affairs in the Peloponnese—stormed the place completely within a few days.

For King Antigonus held Corinth by the consent of the Achaeans on account of the circumstances of the Cleomenic war; and having taken Orchomenus by force, he had not restored it to the Achaeans but had appropriated and kept it, wishing, as it seems to me, not only to control the entrance into the Peloponnese but also to keep watch over its interior by means of his garrison and military stores in Orchomenus.

Dorimachus and Scopas watched for the moment when little time remained of Timoxenus's term of office, and when Aratus, though appointed by the Achaeans as general for the coming year, was not yet due to take up the command.

Then, gathering the Aetolians in full force at Rhium, preparing transport vessels and making the Cephallenian ships ready, they ferried their men across into the Peloponnese and advanced on Messenia.

Marching through the territory of the Patraeans, Pharaeans, and Tritaeans, they pretended that they wished to do no wrong to the Achaeans; but since their forces could not keep their hands off the country, in their lack of restraint where booty was concerned, they passed through doing harm and damage until they reached Phigalea.

From there they made a sudden and reckless dash, and burst into the territory of the Messenians, taking no account whatever either of the friendship and alliance that had long existed between them and the Messenians, or of the principles of justice recognized among all mankind.

Setting all this below their own greed, they plundered without fear, while the Messenians did not dare to come out against them at all.

Chapter 7 Strength and Weakness of Aratus

The Achaeans, since their regular assembly fell due by law at this time, gathered at Aegium. When they had come together in the assembly, the Patraeans and Pharaeans gave an account of the wrongs done to their territory during the Aetolians' passage through it, and the Messenians, present as envoys, begged them to help, since they were being wronged and treated in violation of the treaty.

After hearing what was said, the Achaeans shared the anger of the Patraeans and Pharaeans and sympathized with the misfortunes of the Messenians.

But they thought it especially outrageous that, without anyone having granted the Aetolians a passage, and without their ever having so much as asked permission, the Aetolians had dared to set foot with an army on Achaean soil in breach of the treaty.

Provoked by all this, they voted to assist the Messenians, and that the general should call the Achaeans together under arms; and whatever the assembled levy decided when it met should be binding.

Now Timoxenus, who was still general at the time—his term being all but over—and who moreover had no confidence in the Achaeans, since at present they had grown slack in their training under arms, kept putting off the expedition and the gathering of the levy altogether.

For after the downfall of Cleomenes, king of the Spartans, the Peloponnesians, worn out by the earlier wars and trusting in the present state of peace, had all neglected their preparations for war.

Aratus, however, indignant and provoked at the audacity of the Aetolians, dealt with the situation more hotly, the more so because of the long-standing hostility he already felt toward them from earlier times.

He was therefore eager to call the Achaeans together under arms and keen to engage the Aetolians.

In the end, five days before his proper term began, he took over the public seal from Timoxenus and wrote to the cities, summoning all those of military age, under arms, to Megalopolis.

About this man it seems to me fitting to say a few words first, on account of the peculiar nature of his character.

Chapter 8 Character of Aratus

In all other respects Aratus was a man perfectly suited to practical statesmanship.

He was capable of speaking, of devising, and of keeping a decision to himself; he was second to none in bearing political quarrels with composure, in binding men to him as friends, and in winning over allies; and he was supremely skilled in mounting actions, deceptions, and plots against his enemies, and in carrying them through to the end by his own endurance and daring.

Clear proofs of such qualities are many, but the most conspicuous to those who have studied the details are the captures of Sicyon and Mantinea, the expulsion of the Aetolians from the city of the Pelleneans, and, greatest of all, the affair of the Acrocorinthus.

Yet this same man, whenever he wished to contest the open field, was sluggish in his plans, timid in his undertakings, and unable to face danger in plain sight.

And so he filled the Peloponnese with trophies erected against him, and in this respect he was always, in one way or another, easy prey for his enemies.

So true is it that human natures contain much that is varied, not only in their bodies but still more in their minds; so that the same man is not only gifted for some kinds of activity and incapable of others, but often, even in closely similar matters, the very same man proves both highly intelligent and exceedingly slow, and likewise both extremely bold and extremely cowardly.

This is no paradox; it is a familiar and well-known thing to those willing to take note of it.

Some men, for instance, are bold in hunting when it comes to closing with wild beasts, yet those same men are faint-hearted in the face of weapons and enemies; and in warfare itself some are ready and effective in fighting man to man and on their own account, but useless when acting in common and in equal battle order with the line.

The Thessalian cavalry, at any rate, are irresistible by squadron and in phalanx formation, but apart from a set battle line, when it comes to risking themselves man by man as time and place demand, they are awkward and slow; the Aetolians are the opposite of this.

The Cretans, both by land and by sea, are irresistible at ambushes, raids, thefts from the enemy, night attacks, and every kind of operation involving guile and piecemeal action, but for a frontal charge in line, agreed upon and face to face, they are faint-hearted and crooked in spirit; the Achaeans and Macedonians are the opposite of this.

Let this be said by me so that my readers may not distrust what I say, if at some point I make contradictory statements about the same men in regard to closely similar pursuits.

Chapter 9 Dorimachus Consents To Depart

When the men of military age had assembled under arms at Megalopolis in accordance with the decree of the Achaeans—for it was from this point that I digressed—and when the Messenians once again came before the assembly and begged them not to look on while they were so flagrantly being wronged in violation of the treaty, declaring also their wish to join the common alliance and their eagerness to be enrolled together with the rest, the leaders of the Achaeans rejected the request for alliance, saying that it was not possible to admit anyone without Philip and the allies.

For the alliance that had been concluded through Antigonus during the period of the Cleomenic war was still binding by oath on them all—on the Achaeans, the Epirotes, the Phocians, the Macedonians, the Boeotians, the Acarnanians, and the Thessalians.

They said, however, that they would march out and come to the Messenians' aid, provided that the envoys present handed over their own sons as hostages to the city of the Lacedaemonians, as a guarantee that they would not make a settlement with the Aetolians without the consent of the Achaeans.

The Spartans too were encamped on the borders of Megalopolitan territory, having marched out in accordance with the alliance, though they held the position of reserves and onlookers rather than active allies.

Aratus, having settled matters with the Messenians in this way, sent word to the Aetolians, making the decisions known and ordering them to withdraw from Messenian territory and not to set foot in Achaea; otherwise, he warned, he would treat any who entered it as enemies.

When Scopas and Dorimachus heard what was said and learned that the Achaeans had mustered, they judged that it was to their advantage for the moment to comply with the orders.

So they immediately dispatched letter-carriers both to Cyllene and to Ariston, the general of the Aetolians, requesting that the transport vessels be sent to them with all speed from Elis to the island called Pheias.

Two days later they themselves struck camp, laden with booty, and advanced as if toward Elis. For the Aetolians always cultivated the friendship of the Eleans, so that through them they might gain a foothold for their raids and piratical expeditions out of the Peloponnese.

Chapter 10 Aratus Dismisses the Achaean Troops

Aratus waited two days and, naively believing that they would make their return by the route they had indicated, dismissed all the rest of the Achaeans and the Spartans to their homes, but keeping three thousand foot and three hundred horse together with the soldiers under Taurion, he advanced along the road to Patrae, intending to march parallel to the Aetolians.

When Dorimachus and his men learned that Aratus was keeping pace with them and remaining under arms—partly fearing that they might be attacked while they were preoccupied with embarking on the ships, and partly being eager to provoke the war—they sent their booty off to the boats, assigning enough capable men suited to its transport, with instructions to those sent out that the goods should be brought to Rhium, where they intended to make their embarkation.

They themselves at first lay in wait, attending to the dispatch of the booty, and after that changed direction and advanced as if toward Olympia.

But hearing that Taurion with the aforementioned force was in the neighborhood of Cleitor, and reckoning that even so they would not be able to make the crossing from Rhium without danger and a clash, they decided it was to the advantage of their cause to engage with Aratus's men as quickly as possible, while they were still few in number and unsuspecting of what was coming, supposing that, if they routed them, they could plunder the country in advance and so make the crossing from Rhium secure, during the time the Achaean levy was hesitating and deliberating about mustering again, while if Aratus's men were alarmed and avoided battle, unwilling to engage, they could effect their withdrawal without danger whenever it seemed advantageous to them.

So, reasoning along these lines, they advanced and pitched camp near [...]

Chapter 11 Bad Strategy of Aratus

Methydrium in Megalopolitan territory. The Achaean commanders, perceiving the presence of the Aetolians, handled the situation so badly that they left no room for greater folly.

For having turned back from Cleitor, they encamped near Caphyae.

When the Aetolians made their march from Methydrium past the city of Orchomenus, the Achaean leaders led their troops out into the plain of Caphyae and drew them up there, using as a protective barrier the river that flows through it.

But the Aetolians—both because of the difficult ground in between (for in front of the river there were also several ditches hard to cross) and because of the apparent readiness of the Achaeans for battle—lost their nerve for attacking the enemy according to their original intention, and instead made their march in good order toward the passes leading up to Olygyrtus, content if no one would attack them and force them to risk an engagement.

But Aratus and his officers—when the Aetolian vanguard was already beginning its ascent toward the passes, while the cavalry were bringing up the rear across the plain and approaching the place called Propus at the foot of the hills—sent out the cavalry and the light-armed troops, putting Epistratus the Acarnanian in command, with orders to fasten upon the enemy's rearguard and harass them.

And yet, if an engagement had to be risked at all, they ought not to have come to grips with the rear, when the enemy had already crossed the level ground, but with the vanguard, the moment it had

pushed forward into the plain.

For in that way the whole battle would have taken place on flat, level ground, where the Aetolians happened to be at their most ineffective, owing to their equipment and their whole order of arms, while the Achaeans were at their most effective and powerful, for the opposite reasons just stated.

As it was, abandoning the ground and circumstances suited to themselves, they descended into conditions that favored the enemy.

Chapter 12 The Achaeans Defeated

The outcome, accordingly, matched their plans. For as the light-armed troops fastened upon them, the Aetolian cavalry kept their formation and withdrew toward the lower slopes, eager to join up with their own infantry.

But Aratus and his men, neither seeing clearly what was happening nor reckoning properly what would result from it, the moment they saw the cavalry retiring, supposed that they were in flight, and so sent out the heavy-armed troops from the wings, ordering them to go to the aid of their own light-armed men and link up with them, while they themselves wheeled the army into column and led it forward at a run and in haste.

The Aetolian cavalry, meanwhile, having crossed the plain, as soon as they joined their infantry drew back and halted under cover of the lower slopes, while they massed their infantry on the flanks and called them up, the men readily running back at the shouting and constantly reinforcing them as they arrived from the line of march.

And when they judged that they were now a match for the enemy in numbers, they closed up and charged the Achaean cavalry and light troops fighting at the front. Being more numerous, and making their assault from higher ground, they fought for a long time, and finally routed those drawn up against them.

As these men gave way and fled, the heavy-armed troops coming to their aid, arriving in disorder along the line of march and scattered—some at a loss over what was happening, others colliding head-on with the fleeing men during the withdrawal—were forced to turn back and do the same.

The result was that those actually defeated in the engagement numbered no more than five hundred, while those in flight numbered more than two thousand.

And since the affair itself taught the Aetolians what they had to do, they followed close behind, employing their shouting in an overbearing and relentless way.

As the Achaeans made their withdrawal toward their heavy infantry, on the assumption that these were standing fast in safety in their original formation, the flight at first was orderly and free from danger.

But when they saw that these troops too had abandoned the safety of their position and were strung out and broken up on the march, some of them at once dispersed and made their retreat in disorder to the neighboring towns, while others, colliding head-on with the phalangites advancing toward them, had no need of the enemy at all, but threw themselves into a panic and forced one another into headlong flight. They directed their flight, during the withdrawal, as I said before, toward the towns; for Orchomenus and Caphyae, being close by, were the salvation of many. Had this not been so, they would all have been in danger of being destroyed in an unexpected disaster.

Chapter 13 Aratus Denounced For His Failure

So the engagement that took place near Caphyae, then, turned out in this way. When the Megalopolitans learned that the Aetolians were encamped near Methydrium, they came at the call of the trumpet, with their whole population, to give aid on the day immediately following the battle.

And the very men alongside whom, while still alive, they had hoped to face the danger against the enemy—these they were now forced to bury, men who had been killed by their foes.

So, having dug a trench in the plain of Caphyae and gathered up the dead, they performed the funeral rites for those unfortunate men with every mark of honor.

The Aetolians, meanwhile, having unexpectedly won their advantage by means of their cavalry and light-armed troops alone, from then on marched in complete safety straight through the middle of the Peloponnese.

During this time they made an attempt on the city of the Pellenians, overran the territory of Sicyon, and finally made their withdrawal by way of the Isthmus.

These, then, were the cause and the pretext from which the Social War arose; its formal beginning came from the decree that was afterward passed by all the allies.

For they assembled at the city of the Corinthians and ratified the resolution, with Philip the king presiding.

Chapter 14 Aratus is Denounced and Defends Himself

A few days later the general body of the Achaeans, gathered for their regular assembly, were bitterly hostile—both collectively and individually—toward Aratus, on the grounds that he was, by common agreement, the man responsible for the disaster just described.

And so, when his political opponents brought charges against him and presented vivid demonstrations of his guilt, the multitude grew still more angry and incensed.

For it seemed that his first plain error was this: that, before his term of office had even legally begun, he had seized upon a time that belonged to another in order to take up the very sort of enterprises in

which he knew he had often failed.

His second error, and greater than this, was that he had disbanded the Achaeans while the Aetolians were still in the heart of the Peloponnese—and this especially when he had known in advance that Scopas and Dorimachus were eager to upset the established order and stir up war.

His third error was to engage the enemy as he did, with so few men and under no pressing necessity, when he could have withdrawn safely to the neighboring cities, mustered the Achaeans, and only then given battle to the enemy, if he judged that course to be wholly advantageous.

His last and greatest error was that, having decided to fight, he conducted matters so recklessly and so heedlessly that he abandoned the plains and the usefulness of his heavy infantry, and made the contest against the Aetolians on the hillsides with his light-armed troops alone—the very ground than which nothing could have been more useful or more suited to the Aetolians.

Nevertheless, as soon as Aratus came forward and reminded them of his earlier political career and of what he had accomplished before, and offered his defense on the charges—arguing that he was not responsible for what had happened, and asking their pardon if he had indeed overlooked something during the engagement, and urging that they should consider the whole matter not with bitterness, but with humanity—the multitude so quickly and so magnanimously changed their minds that they became thoroughly displeased with those of his political opponents who had joined in attacking him, and resolved all subsequent measures in accordance with Aratus' judgment. These events, then, fell in the earlier Olympiad, while what follows fell in the one hundred and fortieth.

Chapter 15 Lukewarmness of the Allies

The Achaeans' resolutions were these: to send envoys to the Epirotes, the Boeotians, the Phocians, the Acarnanians, and to Philip, and to make clear in what manner the Aetolians, in violation of the treaties, had already twice invaded Achaea under arms; to call upon them for aid in accordance with the agreements; and also to receive the Messenians into the alliance; and that the general of the Achaeans should pick out five thousand foot and five hundred horse from among the Achaeans and go to the support of the Messenians, should the Aetolians set foot in their territory; and to arrange with both the Lacedaemonians and the Messenians how many horse and foot were to be furnished by each for the common needs. When these measures had been resolved upon, the Achaeans, bearing what had happened nobly, abandoned neither the Messenians nor their own purpose; and those appointed as envoys to the allies carried out their missions, while the general picked out the men from Achaea in accordance with the decree, and arranged with the Lacedaemonians and the Messenians that each should furnish two thousand five hundred foot and two hundred and fifty horse, so that the whole combined force for the needs that would arise should be ten thousand foot and a thousand horse.

The Aetolians, meanwhile, when their regular assembly had come around, met and resolved to keep peace with the Lacedaemonians, the Messenians, and all the rest—acting in bad faith and wishing to ruin and injure the allies of the Achaeans; but with the Achaeans themselves they voted to keep peace

on condition that they withdraw from the alliance with the Messenians, and otherwise to make war—a thing utterly absurd.

For being themselves allies of both the Achaeans and the Messenians, if these two should maintain friendship and alliance with each other, they declared war on the Achaeans; whereas if the Achaeans chose enmity toward the Messenians, they would grant them peace separately— so that their injustice could not even be brought within the bounds of reason, because of the perversity of their very schemes.

Chapter 16 The Aetolians and Illyrians Invade Achaea

The Epirotes and King Philip, on hearing the envoys, admitted the Messenians into the alliance; and as for what the Aetolians had done, though they were indignant for the moment, they were not greatly astonished, since the Aetolians had done nothing extraordinary but only something in keeping with their usual ways.

For this very reason they were not angered for long, but voted to keep peace with them—so true is it that continual wrongdoing meets with more forgiveness than rare and unexpected wickedness.

The Aetolians, at any rate, behaving in this manner—constantly plundering Greece and waging undeclared wars upon many peoples—no longer even thought it worth their while to answer those who accused them, but actually mocked anyone who summoned them to arbitration over what had happened, or, by Zeus, over what they intended to do.

And the Spartans, though they had recently been set free through Antigonus and the generous zeal of the Achaeans, and were bound to do nothing hostile toward the Macedonians and Philip, sent secret messages to the Aetolians and concluded a covert treaty of friendship and alliance with them.

When the Achaean young men had already been picked out and assigned to the support of the Spartans and Messenians, Scerdilaidas, together with Demetrius of Pharos, sailed out from Illyria with ninety galleys beyond Lissus, in violation of the treaty with the Romans.

These men first put in at Pylos and, after making assaults upon it, were beaten off; afterward Demetrius, taking fifty of the galleys, set out for the islands, and sailing around them exacted money from some of the Cyclades and plundered others; while Scerdilaidas, making his voyage homeward, put in at Naupactus with forty galleys, persuaded by Amynas, king of the Athamanians, who happened to be his brother-in-law.

Having made an agreement with the Aetolians, through Agelaus, concerning the division of the spoils, he promised to join the Aetolians in invading Achaea together with them.

Having concluded this agreement with Scerdilaidas, Agelaus, Dorimachus, and Scopas—since the city of the Cynaethians was being intrigued into their hands—mustered the Aetolians with their whole force and invaded [...]

Chapter 17 Factions At Cynaetha

[...] Achaea, together with the Illyrians. Meanwhile Ariston, the general of the Aetolians, pretended to take no notice of any of these events and stayed quietly at home, claiming that he was not making war on the Achaeans but keeping the peace—a foolish and childish way to behave.

For it is plain that a man of this sort is bound to look silly and absurd whenever he imagines that mere words can hide what the facts make obvious.

Dorimachus and his men, however, marched through Achaean territory and suddenly appeared before Cynaetha.

Now the Cynaethans, who are Arcadians, had for many years been gripped by relentless and violent civil strife. The rival parties had repeatedly inflicted on one another massacres and banishments, and on top of these the plundering of property and redistributions of land. In the end the faction that favored the Achaean cause prevailed and took control of the city, holding the walls with a garrison and a commandant brought in from Achaea.

Such was the situation when, a little before the Aetolians arrived, the exiles sent appeals to those in the city, begging to be reconciled with them and allowed to return to their homeland.

The party holding the city was persuaded and sent an embassy to the Achaean League, wishing to carry out the reconciliation with the League's approval.

The Achaeans readily gave their consent, convinced that both sides would be well disposed toward them—since the party in control of the city had placed all its hopes in the Achaeans, while those about to return would owe their safe restoration to Achaean agreement.

So the Cynaethans dismissed the garrison and the commandant from the city, made peace, and brought back the exiles, who numbered close to three hundred, after exacting from them the pledges reckoned the most binding among mankind.

But once they were home, the returned exiles did not even wait for some cause or pretext to arise that might give the appearance of a fresh quarrel breaking out; on the contrary, the moment they were back they immediately began plotting against their country and against the very men who had saved them.

Indeed, it seems to me that at the very moment when, over the sacrificial victims, they were exchanging oaths and pledges with one another, they were already turning over in their minds this crime against the gods and against those who had trusted them.

For as soon as they were admitted to citizenship, they at once began drawing in the Aetolians and intriguing with them to seize the city, eager to bring utter ruin upon those who had saved them and upon the city that had nurtured them.

Chapter 18 Treason of the Cynaethans

[...] to destroy it root and branch. The deed they carried out with the following piece of daring, and in the following way.

Some of the returned exiles had been appointed polemarchs. It is the duty of this office to close the gates, to keep custody of the keys during the time they remain shut, and to spend the day on station at the gatehouses.

The Aetolians, then, fully equipped and with their ladders ready, watched for their opportunity; and the polemarchs from among the exiles, after butchering their fellow officers at the gatehouse, threw open the gate.

When this happened, some of the Aetolians rushed in through the gate, while others set up their ladders, forced their way over them, and took possession of the walls. The whole population of the city, panic-stricken at what was happening, were helpless and at a loss how to meet the situation. They could not concentrate on resisting those pouring in through the gate because of the men attacking the walls, nor could they defend the walls because of the men forcing their way through the gate.

The Aetolians, having for these reasons quickly gained control of the city, did amid all their unjust acts one wholly just thing: the very men who had let them in and betrayed the city to them they slaughtered first of all, and plundered their property.

They treated all the others in the same way; and finally, quartering themselves in the houses, they ransacked them for valuables and tortured many of the Cynaethans whom they suspected of having money, plate, or anything else of unusual worth hidden away.

Having ruined the Cynaethans in this fashion, they broke camp and moved off, leaving a garrison to guard the walls, and advanced in the direction of Lusi.

On reaching the temple of Artemis, which lies between Cleitor and Cynaetha and is regarded as inviolable by the Greeks, they threatened to carry off the goddess's herds and the other property around the temple.

But the people of Lusi prudently handed over some of the goddess's sacred objects and so dissuaded the Aetolians from their impiety, sparing themselves any irreparable harm.

The Aetolians accepted the gift, immediately moved on, and pitched their camp before the city of the Cleitorians.

Chapter 19 More Aetolian Outrages

About this same time Aratus, the general of the Achaeans, sent off to Philip an appeal for help, began mustering his picked troops, and sent for the contingents that Sparta and Messene were bound to supply under the terms of their agreements.

The Aetolians at first tried to persuade the Cleitorians to abandon the Achaeans and choose alliance with them instead.

But when the Cleitorians flatly refused to entertain the proposal, the Aetolians launched assaults, set their ladders against the walls, and tried to take the city by storm.

When the defenders inside resisted bravely and boldly, the Aetolians gave way to circumstances, broke camp, and marched off once more toward Cynaetha, driving away with them, even so, the goddess's herds.

At first they offered Cynaetha to the Eleans; but when the Eleans refused to take it, they resolved to hold the city themselves and put Euripidas in command of it.

Afterward, however, taking fright at reports of the relief force coming from Macedonia, they set fire to the city and withdrew, advancing once more toward Rhium, where they had decided to make their crossing.

Now Taurion, learning of the Aetolian invasion and of what had been done at Cynaetha, and observing that Demetrius of Pharos had sailed in from the islands to Cenchreae, urged him to come to the aid of the Achaeans and, after hauling his galleys across the Isthmus, to fall upon the Aetolians as they made their crossing.

Demetrius, who had made his return from the islands profitable but inglorious—since the Rhodians had put to sea against him—gladly agreed to Taurion's request, once Taurion had undertaken to cover the cost of getting the galleys across.

So Demetrius hauled his ships over the Isthmus but arrived two days too late for the Aetolian crossing; after raiding some places along the Aetolian coast in advance, he sailed back to Corinth.

As for the Spartans, they shirked sending the relief force as arranged, dispatching only a very small body of cavalry and infantry, merely to keep up appearances.

Aratus, though he had his Achaean troops, dealt with the situation more as a politician than as a general.

For up to this point he kept quiet, holding back and mindful of his earlier disaster, until Scopas and Dorimachus had accomplished everything they intended and returned home—even though they made their march through country easy to attack, full of narrow defiles, where a single trumpeter would have sufficed to bring them down.

As for the Cynaethans, although they had fallen into great misfortunes and great calamities at the hands of the Aetolians, they were nevertheless thought to have suffered, of all people, the most deservedly.

Chapter 20 Music in Arcadia

Since the Arcadian nation as a whole enjoys a certain reputation for virtue among all the Greeks—not only for the hospitality and kindness of their character and way of life, but above all for their reverence toward the gods— it is worth pausing briefly to consider the savagery of the Cynaethans, and to ask how it was that, while admittedly Arcadians, they so far surpassed the rest of the Greeks at that time in cruelty and lawlessness.

In my view it was because they were the first and only Arcadians to abandon those practices which their ancestors had wisely devised and thoughtfully adapted, in keeping with nature, to all the inhabitants of Arcadia. I mean music— genuine music, that is—which it is beneficial for all people to practice, but for Arcadians is positively essential. For we must not suppose, as Ephorus does— who, in the preface to his whole work, tossed off a remark utterly unworthy of him—that music was introduced among mankind to deceive and bewitch them.

Nor should we imagine that the ancient Cretans and Spartans had no good reason for substituting the pipe and rhythmic movement for the trumpet in war, or that the early Arcadians acted without purpose in giving music so prominent a place in their whole constitution that they made it a compulsory part of upbringing not only for children but for young men up to the age of thirty, though in all other respects they led the most austere of lives.

For these facts are familiar to everyone: that among the Arcadians, almost alone, the children are first trained from infancy to sing, in accordance with custom, the hymns and paeans by which each community celebrates its local heroes and gods in the traditional way; and that afterward they learn the compositions of Philoxenus and Timotheus, and dance with great enthusiasm each year to the Dionysian pipers in the theaters—the boys in the boys' contests, the young men in what are called the men's contests.

Likewise throughout their whole lives, at their gatherings, they provide their entertainment not so much through imported performers as by their own efforts, each in turn being called on to sing.

And while they consider it no disgrace to admit ignorance of any other accomplishment, singing is something they can neither disclaim—since all are compelled to learn it—nor, having learned it, openly refuse to practice, because that too is reckoned shameful among them.

Moreover, practicing marching-songs to the pipe and in formation, and laboring at dances, they display these every year in the theaters to their fellow citizens, with shared attention and at public expense.

Chapter 21 Why the Ancient Arcadians Turned to Music

It seems to me that the men of old introduced these practices not for the sake of luxury or abundance, but because they observed, on the one hand, that everyone worked the land with their own hands and that their way of life was, in a word, toilsome and harsh; and on the other hand, they saw the severity

of character that goes with such a life because of the coldness and gloom that prevail throughout most of the region—conditions to which all of us human beings are naturally bound to conform.

For it is by this cause, and no other, that, in our distinctions by nation and by broad geographical separation, we differ so widely from one another in character, in physical form, and in coloring, and likewise in most of our customary pursuits.

Wishing, then, to soften and temper the willfulness and harshness of their nature, they introduced all the things mentioned above, and in addition established the custom of common assemblies and frequent sacrifices shared alike by men and women, and also choral dances of girls together with boys.

In short, they devised every means, eager to tame and gentle the unyielding quality of the soul through the cultivation of these habits.

The people of Cynaetha neglected these things entirely—and that although they needed such help more than anyone, since they hold by far the harshest air and territory in all Arcadia—and instead gave themselves over to their mutual feuds and rivalries.

In the end they grew so savage that no Greek city has ever been the scene of greater or more continual acts of impiety.

Here is a sign both of the Cynaethans' misfortune in this regard and of the displeasure of the other Arcadians toward such conduct: at the time when the Cynaethans, after committing their great massacre, sent an embassy to the Spartans, every other Arcadian city they entered on the road immediately ordered them out by herald; and the Mantineans, after the envoys had departed, even performed a purification, carrying sacrificial victims around the city and the whole of their territory.

Let this much, then, be said by me so that the common character of the Arcadians may not be slandered on account of a single city, and likewise so that no one among the inhabitants of Arcadia may suppose that the cultivation of music is carried so far among them merely for the sake of indulgence and so be tempted to neglect this branch of education; and also for the sake of the Cynaethans themselves, that, if ever god grants them better fortune, they may humanize themselves by turning to education, and above all to music; for only in this way could they ever be rid of the savagery that then prevailed among them.

Now that we have set out what came to mind concerning the Cynaethans, let us return once more to our digression.

Chapter 22 Philip V. In the Peloponnese

So the Aetolians, having done such things throughout the Peloponnese, returned home safely.

Philip, coming with an army to the aid of the Achaeans, arrived at Corinth. Finding that he had come too late, he sent dispatch-bearers to all the allies, urging each of them to send delegates with all speed

to Corinth to deliberate about the common interest.

He himself broke camp and advanced toward Tegea, having learned that the Spartans had fallen into bloodshed and turmoil against one another.

For the Spartans, being accustomed to being ruled by a king and to obeying their leaders in all things, had recently been set free through Antigonus; and now, with no king among them, they were in a state of faction with one another, since they all assumed they had an equal share in the government.

At first, two of the ephors kept their views concealed, while the other three made common cause with the Aetolians, convinced that because of his youth Philip would not yet be able to deal effectively with affairs in the Peloponnese.

But when, contrary to their expectation, the Aetolians made a swift withdrawal from the Peloponnese, and Philip arrived from Macedonia even more swiftly, the three distrusted one of the other two, Adeimantus, because he was privy to all their schemes but did not very much approve of what was being done; and they were anxious that, once the king drew near, he would reveal everything that was going on to Philip.

For this reason, after conferring with some of the young men, they issued a proclamation that all those of military age should go in arms to the sanctuary of Athena of the Brazen House, on the pretext that the Macedonians were advancing on the city.

When, owing to the suddenness of it, a crowd had quickly gathered, Adeimantus, displeased at what was happening, came forward and tried to exhort and instruct them, saying:

“These proclamations and these musters under arms ought to have been ordered earlier, at the time when we were hearing that the Aetolians, who were our enemies, were drawing near the borders of our land—not now, when we learn that the Macedonians, our benefactors and saviors, are approaching with their king.”

But while he was still pressing this argument, the young men who had been suborned fell upon him and stabbed him to death, and with him Sthenelaus, Alcamenes, Thyestes, Bionidas, and a good many other citizens.

Chapter 23 Philip’s Council Divides over Sparta

But Polyphontas and certain men with him, prudently foreseeing what was to come, withdrew to join Philip. Having done this, the ephors now in control of affairs at once sent men to denounce to Philip those who had been killed and to urge him to hold back his approach until the city’s affairs, after the disturbance that had occurred, had returned to their settled state—and meanwhile to be assured that it was their fixed intention to maintain toward the Macedonians everything that was just and friendly.

These men, meeting the king when he was already near Mount Parthenium, addressed him in accordance with their instructions.

When he had heard them out, he urged the envoys to make their return home with all speed and to inform the ephors that he would continue his march without a break and make his camp at Tegea, and that he thought they ought, as quickly as possible, to send him men of sufficient standing to confer with him about the present situation.

When those who had met him had carried out his command, the leaders of the Spartans, after hearing the king's message, sent ten men to Philip. These men went to Tegea and entered the king's council; with Omias at their head, they accused the party of Adeimantus of being responsible for the disturbance, and promised that they themselves would do everything for Philip that pertained to the alliance, and would show themselves second to none in goodwill toward him among those reckoned to be his true friends.

So the Spartans, having spoken these things and others like them, withdrew, and the members of the council differed with one another in their opinions.

Some, knowing the malice of those in Sparta and convinced both that the party of Adeimantus had perished because of their loyalty to the Macedonians and that the Spartans had set their minds on making common cause with the Aetolians, advised Philip to make an example of the Spartans, treating them in the same way that Alexander had treated the Thebans immediately after taking power.

Chapter 24 The King Decides Not to Punish Sparta

But others, the older men, declared that such anger was too severe for what had happened, and that the right course was to censure those responsible, depose them, and put the government and the magistracies into the hands of his own friends. The king spoke last of all—if one ought to speak of these views as the king's: for it is not likely that a boy of seventeen could reach clear judgments about matters of such magnitude.

It is, however, proper for us who write history to attribute the opinions that decided the deliberations to those in supreme command; yet the readers themselves should bear in mind that such proposals and decisions probably came from his associates, and especially from those closest to him.

Of these, one would most fairly assign to Aratus the opinion then expressed by the king.

For Philip said that, as for the wrongs the allies committed privately against one another, it fell to him to correct and mark these only by word of mouth and by letter; but that matters affecting the alliance as a whole were the only ones that called for joint attention and correction by all.

Since the Spartans had committed no manifest offense against the common alliance, and were promising to do everything that was just toward us, it was not right to deliberate any irrevocable measure concerning them; for it would be absurd that his father, having conquered them when they

were enemies, had done nothing harsh, while he himself, for so small a cause, should decide on some irreparable action against them.

This opinion having been ratified—that the incident should be overlooked—the king at once sent Petraeus, one of his own friends, together with the party of Omias, to urge the people to hold fast to their goodwill toward himself and the Macedonians, and at the same time to give and receive the oaths concerning the alliance.

He himself broke camp with his army and advanced once more toward Corinth, having set before the allies, in his decision regarding the Spartans, a fine example of his own policy.

Chapter 25 War Declared With the Aetolians

When he reached Corinth, he found that the representatives from the allied cities had already arrived. He held a council with them and deliberated about what should be done and how they ought to deal with the Aetolians.

The Boeotians charged that the Aetolians had plundered the temple of Athena Itonia while a state of peace prevailed; the Phocians, that they had marched against Ambrysus and Daulium and tried to seize those cities; the Epirotes, that they had ravaged their territory; and the Acarnanians demonstrated in detail how the Aetolians had organized a plot against Thyrium and had even dared to assault the city while it was still night.

In addition to these, the Achaeans set out their case: that the Aetolians had seized Clarium in the territory of Megalopolis; that they had ravaged the lands of Patrae and Pharae as they passed through them; that they had thoroughly sacked Cynaetha; that they had plundered the temple of Artemis at Lusi; that they had besieged the people of Cleitor; and that they had made designs against Pylus by sea, and by land against the recently founded city of the Megalopolitans, striving together with the Illyrians to lay it utterly waste.

When the councillors of the allies had heard all this, they all with one accord resolved to declare war on the Aetolians.

Having set out the aforementioned grievances in the preamble of their resolution, they appended a decree, making the further declaration that they would help the allies recover any territory or city of theirs that the Aetolians had been holding since the time when Demetrius, the natural father of Philip, died; and likewise, as for those who had been compelled by circumstances to take part unwillingly in the Aetolian confederacy, that they would restore all of these to their ancestral forms of government, in possession of their own land and cities, free of garrisons, free of tribute, and independent, living under their own constitutions and ancestral laws.

They also wrote that they would help the Amphictyons recover their laws and their authority over the temple, which the Aetolians had now taken away from them, since the Aetolians wished to control the affairs of the temple themselves.

Chapter 26 Opening of the Social War

When this resolution had been ratified, in the first year of the 140th Olympiad, the war called the Social War had taken its beginning—a beginning that was just and fitting in view of the wrongs that had been committed.

The councillors at once sent envoys to the allies, so that, once the resolution had been confirmed among each people by a vote of the citizens at large, all might join in declaring war on the Aetolians from their respective territories.

Philip also sent a letter to the Aetolians, making clear that, if they had anything just to say in their defense regarding the charges against them, they should even now come together and settle the matter through discussion; but that if they supposed they could, without any common declaration of war, plunder and ravage everyone, while those they wronged would not defend themselves—and that, if these did defend themselves, they would be judged to have started the war—then they were the most simple-minded of all people.

When the magistrates of the Aetolians received this letter, at first they expected that Philip would not come, and so they fixed an appointed day on which they would meet him at Rhium.

But when they learned that he was actually on his way, they sent a courier explaining that they were not able, before the assembly of the Aetolians met, to settle anything on their own authority concerning matters of general policy.

The Achaeans, having gathered for their regular assembly, all ratified the resolution and proclaimed the right of reprisal against the Aetolians.

And when the king too came before the council at Aegium and spoke at some length, they received what he said with goodwill and renewed with Philip himself the friendly relations that had existed between their ancestors.

Chapter 27 Disingenuous Policy of the Spartans

At about the same time the Aetolians, the season of their elections having arrived, chose as their strategus Scopas, the very man who had been responsible for all the wrongful acts just described.

About these matters I scarcely know how one ought to speak. For to pass a public decree against making war, and yet to march out in full force and plunder and carry off their neighbors' property; and to punish none of those responsible, but on the contrary to elect as generals and to honor the leaders in such deeds—this seems to me to be brimming with utter villainy.

For what else could one call such wickedness? My meaning will be made clear from the following examples.

When Phoebidas treacherously seized the Cadmeia in violation of the treaty, the Spartans penalized the man responsible, but did not withdraw the garrison—as though the wrong were undone by the punishment of the man who committed it, when in fact the opposite course was open to them; for it was the garrison that mattered to the Thebans.

Again, they proclaimed that they were leaving the cities free and self-governing in accordance with the peace concluded under Antalcidas, yet they did not withdraw their governors from the cities.

And when they had driven the Mantineans from their homes—men who were their friends and allies—they claimed they were doing no wrong, on the grounds that they had merely resettled them from one city into several; acting with a folly that was joined to wickedness, plainly because they imagined that, if a man shuts his own eyes, his neighbors too cannot see.

For both peoples, then, this devotion to such a policy became the cause of the greatest disasters; and it is one that should in no way and on no account be emulated, either by individuals or by states, if they deliberate rightly.

King Philip, having concluded his business with the Achaeans, set out with his army for Macedonia, hastening to make his preparations for the war, and through the aforementioned decree he held out fair hopes not only to the allies but to all the Greeks, of his mildness and royal magnanimity.

Chapter 28 The Wars in Italy, Greece, and Asia Become Interlaced

These events were taking place at the same time as when Hannibal, who had by now become master of all the territory south of the Ebro river, was launching his attack on the city of Saguntum.

Now, if it had happened that Hannibal's first undertakings were from the very outset interwoven with affairs in Greece, it would clearly have been my duty to have given an account of them in the previous book, alternating and setting them side by side with the affairs in Iberia, following the order of the dates.

But since the wars in Italy, in Greece, and in Asia had their beginnings separately, while their conclusions were shared, I have decided to give my account of them separately as well, until we arrive at the point at which the aforementioned events became interwoven with one another and began to tend toward a single end— for in this way both the account of the several beginnings will be clear and the interweaving evident (the very interweaving I indicated at the start, showing when, how, and for what causes it came about)—and from then on it remains to make my history of them all a single, common one.

The interweaving of events occurred near the conclusion of the war, in the third year of the 140th Olympiad. Therefore, from that point onward I shall give my account following the dates in a common narrative, but I shall treat the events before it separately, as I have said, merely calling to mind those events of the same period that have been related in the previous book, so that my narrative may become not only easy to follow but also striking to those who attend to it.

Chapter 29 The Illyrians and Acarnanians Join

While wintering in Macedonia, Philip carefully enrolled his forces for the campaign ahead, and at the same time secured his position against the barbarians who lived above Macedonia.

After this he met with Scerdilaidas and, boldly placing himself in his hands, discussed terms of friendship and alliance with him.

Partly by promising to help him set in order his affairs in Illyria, and partly by denouncing the Aetolians—who gave ample grounds for denunciation—he easily persuaded him to agree to what he proposed.

For private wrongdoing differs in no real way from public wrongdoing, but only in the number and scale of what results from it. Indeed, in private life the tribe of cheats and thieves comes to ruin chiefly in this way: by failing to deal justly with one another, and in short through their treacheries toward each other. And this is exactly what happened in the case of the Aetolians at that time.

For they had agreed to give Scerdilaidas a share of the plunder if he would join them in invading Achaea; and when he had been won over and had done so, they sacked the city of the Cynaetheans, and after driving off many captives and herds of cattle, they made Scerdilaidas no sharer at all in what had been taken.

Because of this, resentment was already smouldering in him, so that with only a brief reminder from Philip he quickly gave his assent and agreed to join the common alliance, on these terms: that he should receive twenty talents a year, and should put to sea with thirty galleys and wage war against the Aetolians by sea.

Chapter 30 The Acarnanians Enter the War

So Philip was occupied with these matters. Meanwhile the envoys who had been sent out to the allies came first to Acarnania and met with the people there.

The Acarnanians sincerely confirmed the decree on their part and carried the war from their own territory against the Aetolians—even though they, if anyone, would have been justified in being excused for postponing it, hesitating, and in general fearing a war with their neighbours.

For they lay directly alongside the Aetolians, sharing a common border with their country; and still more because, on their own, they were easy to overpower; and, most of all, because only a short time before they had had a taste of the most dreadful sufferings on account of their hostility with the Aetolians.

But it seems to me that men of genuine character, both in public and in private affairs, never set anything above their duty; and this principle the Acarnanians, on most occasions, are found to have maintained as well as any of the Greeks, even though they set out from but slender resources.

With such people one should not hesitate to share in undertakings when circumstances demand it, but should rather be eager to do so, more than with any other of the Greeks; for both in private and in public life they have something steadfast and devoted to liberty about them.

The Epirotes, by contrast, after listening to the envoys, confirmed the decree in much the same way, and voted to wage war against the Aetolians—but only once King Philip too should have begun it.

To the envoys who came from the Aetolians, however, they replied that the Epirotes had resolved to maintain peace with them—conducting their affairs in an ignoble and double-dealing manner.

Envoys were also sent to King Ptolemy to urge him neither to send money to the Aetolians nor to furnish them with any other aid against Philip and the allies.

Chapter 31 Mistaken Policy of the Messenians

As for the Messenians—on whose account the war had begun in the first place—they answered those who had come to them that, since Phigalia lay on their borders and was subject to the Aetolians, they would not enter into the war until that city had been wrested away from the Aetolians.

This decision was forced through, though the common people were by no means pleased with it, by the ephors Oenis and Nicippus and certain others of the oligarchical party, who feared the boldness of the Aetolians—men who, in my judgement at least, were gravely mistaken and wide of the mark of what was needed.

For I maintain that, while war is indeed a fearful thing, it is not so fearful that one should endure anything whatever in order to avoid taking it up.

Otherwise, why do we all make so bold with our talk of equality before the law, freedom of speech, and the very name of liberty, if nothing is to count for more than peace?

We do not, after all, praise the Thebans for their conduct in the Persian Wars, because out of fear they withdrew from the dangers undertaken on behalf of Greece and chose the side of the Persians; nor do we praise Pindar, who joined them in counselling that they keep quiet, in these verses:

“Let a man set the common good of the citizens in fair weather, and seek out the bright light of high-hearted peace.” For though at the moment he seemed to have spoken persuasively, it was not long before his pronouncement was found to be the most shameful and most harmful of all; for peace, when it goes with justice and honour, is the fairest and most profitable of possessions, but when it goes with baseness or disgraceful cowardice it is the most shameful and most ruinous of all things.

Chapter 32 The Messenians Too Much Inclined to Peace

The oligarchs who led the Messenians, aiming at their own immediate private advantage, were always more eager for peace than was right.

Because of this, they slipped through many critical situations and junctures, and at times through fears and dangers as well; but along with this policy the reckoning against them was always mounting up, and in the end they made their country wrestle with the gravest disasters.

For my own part, I think the cause was this: that they bordered on two of the most powerful peoples in the Peloponnese—indeed almost in all of Greece—I mean the Arcadians and the Laconians, of whom the one had been hostile and irreconcilable toward them ever since they had occupied the land, while the other was friendly and protective; yet they neither nobly took up their enmity against the Spartans nor their friendship with the Arcadians.

The result was that whenever these peoples were preoccupied in war against one another or against others, things went well for the Messenians; for they always enjoyed peace and fine weather, as it were, because their country lay off to one side.

But whenever the Spartans, having leisure and nothing to distract them, turned to doing them harm, the Messenians were neither able by themselves to look the weight of Lacedaemon in the face, nor had they prepared in advance true friends who would stand by them in everything; and so they were forced either to be slaves to the Spartans, bearing their burdens, or, in fleeing that slavery, to be driven from their homes and made fugitives, abandoning their country together with their children and wives—which is just what has now befallen them more than once, and not so very long ago.

Now it would be best if the present state of affairs among the Peloponnesians could grow together into something permanent, so that there should be no need of what I am about to say.

But should these arrangements ever undergo upheaval and change, I see only one hope for the Messenians and the Megalopolitans of being able to keep possession of their own land for the longer term: namely, that they come to a common mind in accordance with the judgement of Epaminondas, and choose to share with one another truly in every crisis and every undertaking.

Chapter 33 Troubles In Sparta

This observation of mine may perhaps find some confirmation in events of long ago as well.

For the Messenians, among many other testimonies, set up a pillar beside the altar of Lycaean Zeus in the days of Aristomenes—as Callisthenes too records—on which they inscribed these lines:

“Time in the end found out the unjust king; with Zeus’s help Messene found the traitor easily. Hard it is for a perjured man to escape the notice of a god. Hail, King Zeus, and keep Arcadia safe.”

For after they had been robbed of their own land, it was, as I see it, as though for a second fatherland that they prayed the gods to preserve Arcadia, and so dedicated this inscription.

And they did so with good reason. For not only had the Arcadians taken them in at the time of their expulsion from their own country during the Aristomenic war, sharing their hearths with them and

making them citizens, but they had also voted to give their daughters in marriage to those of the Messenians who were of suitable age, and, beyond this, had investigated the treachery of their king Aristocrates in the battle known as the Battle of the Trench, and had put him to death and wiped out his entire line.

Yet quite apart from these ancient events, what happened most recently, after the joint refounding of Megalopolis and Messene, would by itself give ample support to what I have said.

For at the time when the battle near Mantinea had left the victory of the Greeks in dispute because of the death of Epaminondas, the Lacedaemonians tried to bar the Messenians from sharing in the treaty, still coveting Messenia in their hopes; but the Megalopolitans and all the Arcadians who shared in their alliance pressed the matter so hard that the Messenians were admitted by the allies and took part in the oaths and the settlement, while the Lacedaemonians alone among the Greeks were left out of the treaty.

Considering all this, what man of later times could fail to judge that what I set out a little earlier has been rightly said?

Let this, then, be said by me for the sake of the Arcadians and Messenians, so that, remembering the disasters that have befallen their homelands at the hands of the Spartans, they may hold genuinely fast to their goodwill and loyalty toward one another, and may neither, out of dread of some danger nor out of longing for peace, abandon each other in the gravest crises.

Chapter 34 Machatas Addresses the Spartan Public

The Spartans, for their part, behaved exactly as was their habit—this being of a piece with what came before—for in the end they sent the envoys of the allies away without any answer. Such was the impasse into which their own folly and bad faith had driven them.

And this, it seems to me, proves the truth of the saying that excessive daring often ends in senselessness and comes to nothing.

Afterward, however, once new ephors had been installed, the men who had set the whole affair in motion from the start, and who were responsible for the slaughter mentioned above, sent word to the Aetolians, inviting them to dispatch an envoy.

The Aetolians readily complied, and a little later Machatas arrived at Lacedaemon as their ambassador.

He at once approached the ephors [...], the men holding that Machatas ought to be granted access to the people, that kings should be appointed in accordance with ancestral custom, and that the rule of the Heraclidae should no longer be allowed to remain abolished in defiance of the laws.

The ephors, though displeased with the whole business and unable to face down the agitation, but fearful of the band of young men, said that they would deliberate about the kings later, but granted Machatas the assembly.

When the people had gathered, Machatas came forward and at considerable length urged them to choose the alliance with the Aetolians, recklessly and brazenly denouncing the Macedonians while extolling the Aetolians without reason or truth.

When he had withdrawn, the matter became the subject of great dispute: some spoke in favor of the Aetolians and advised concluding the alliance with them, while others spoke against it.

But when some of the older men brought the people's attention to bear on the benefactions of Antigonus and the Macedonians, and on the harm done through Charixenus and Timaeus—when the Aetolians had marched out in full force and ravaged their land, enslaved the inhabitants of the surrounding country, and plotted against Sparta itself by bringing back the exiles through trickery and force—the people came round to a different view, and in the end were persuaded to maintain the alliance with Philip and the Macedonians.

Chapter 35 Restoration of Royalty In Sparta

This being so, Machatas departed again without having achieved anything and returned home; but those who had been the original authors of the upheaval, wholly unable to yield to the present circumstances, once more set about doing a thing more impious than anything else, having first corrupted some of the young men.

For at a certain ancestral sacrifice it was required that the men of military age process under arms to the temple of Athena of the Bronze House, while the ephors carried out the rites of the sacrifice, remaining there about the precinct.

At this very moment some of the young men in the procession, fully armed, suddenly fell upon the ephors as they were sacrificing and cut them down—even though the sanctuary afforded safety to all who took refuge in it, even to a man condemned to death.

But on this occasion, through the savagery of the men who dared the deed, contempt for the sacred reached such a pitch that all the ephors were slaughtered around the altar and the table of the goddess.

Next, acting in accordance with their design, they killed Gyridas and the other elders of his party, exiled those who had spoken against the Aetolians, chose ephors from among their own number, and concluded the alliance with the Aetolians.

They did all this—and submitted to the hatred of the Achaeans, the ingratitude toward the Macedonians, and, in general, their unreasonable conduct toward everyone—not least because of Cleomenes and their goodwill toward him, forever cherishing the hope and expectation of his coming and of the deliverance he would bring with it.

So true is it that men who have the skill to deal tactfully with those around them leave behind, not only while present but even when far away, certain sparks of goodwill toward themselves that are exceedingly strong.

These men, for instance, among other things, though they had been governed under their ancestral constitution for nearly three years now since the expulsion of Cleomenes, had never once even thought of appointing kings of Sparta; yet the moment the report of Cleomenes' death reached them, both the masses and the board of ephors at once rushed to install kings.

And so the ephors who shared in the faction of the partisans—the same men who had concluded the alliance with the Aetolians of which I spoke just now—appointed the one king lawfully and properly, namely Agesipolis, who was a boy in age, son of Agesipolis and grandson of Cleombrotus; this Cleombrotus had reigned at the time when Leonidas was driven from the throne, because by descent he was the nearest to that house.

As guardian of the boy they chose Cleomenes, son of Cleombrotus and brother of Agesipolis.

From the other royal house there were two sons of Archidamus, son of Eudamidas, by the daughter of Hippomedon, while Hippomedon himself—son of Agesilaus, son of Eudamidas—was still alive and in his prime, and there were several other members of that house besides, more distantly related than those just named but still kin by descent; yet all of these they passed over and appointed as king Lycurgus, not one of whose ancestors had ever attained that title. By giving a talent to each of the ephors he became a descendant of Heracles and king of Sparta.

So cheap, everywhere, has nobility become. And so it was that not the children's children, but the very men who set it up, were the first to pay the wages of their folly.

Chapter 36 Machatas Proposes Foreign War to Quell Domestic Strife

Machatas, learning what had taken place among the Spartans, turned back once more and came to Sparta, and urged the ephors and the kings to carry the war to the Achaeans; for only in this way, he said, could an end be put to the contentiousness of those Spartans who were trying by every means to sever the alliance with the Aetolians, and likewise of those in Aetolia who were acting in the same fashion.

The ephors and the kings were persuaded, and Machatas departed, having accomplished his aim through the blindness of those who worked with him.

Lycurgus then took the soldiers and some of the citizens and invaded the Argolid, the Argives being completely off their guard because of the settlement that had previously been in place.

By a sudden assault he seized Polichna, Prasiae, Leucae, and Cyphanta, but in his attacks on Glympes and Zarax he was beaten off.

After he had done this, the Lacedaemonians proclaimed the right of plunder against the Achaeans. Machatas and his party also persuaded the Eleans, using arguments much like those they had used with the Lacedaemonians, to carry the war to the Achaeans.

Since matters had advanced for the Aetolians beyond expectation and to their liking, they entered upon the war with confidence, while the Achaeans were in the opposite case.

For Philip, on whom their hopes rested, was still occupied with his preparations; the Epirotes were only about to go to war; the Messenians remained inactive; and the Aetolians, having now added the folly of the Eleans and Spartans to their cause, were hemming them in with war from every side.

Chapter 37 Universal War

At this time it happened that Aratus's term of office was already coming to an end, and that his son, Aratus, who had been elected by the Achaeans, was taking over the generalship.

Scopas was general of the Aetolians, and just then his term of office stood at about its midpoint. For the Aetolians held their elections immediately after the autumn equinox, whereas the Achaeans held theirs about the time of the rising of the Pleiades.

Now, as summer was already setting in and the younger Aratus had taken over the generalship, all these affairs at once took up their undertakings and their beginnings.

For at this same period Hannibal set about besieging Saguntum, while the Romans were dispatching Lucius Aemilius with a force into Illyria against Demetrius of Pharos—matters of which we have given an account in the previous book.

Antiochus, after Theodotus had handed over Ptolemais and Tyre to him, was setting out to make an attempt on the regions of Coele-Syria, while Ptolemy was occupied with preparations for the war against Antiochus.

Lycurgus, wishing to begin in the same manner as Cleomenes, had encamped before the Athenaeum of the Megalopolitans and was besieging it. The Achaeans were gathering mercenary cavalry and infantry for the war that surrounded them.

Philip, meanwhile, set out from Macedonia with his army, having ten thousand Macedonian phalangites, five thousand peltasts, and along with these eight hundred cavalry.

All these matters, then, were in such a state of undertaking and preparation.

Chapter 38 Byzantium

And about this same time the Rhodians declared war on the Byzantines for certain such reasons. As far as the sea is concerned, the Byzantines inhabit a site that is the most favorable, both for security and

for prosperity, of any in the whole of our inhabited world; but as regards the land, it is in both respects the most unfavorable of all.

For by sea they so command the mouth of the Pontus that no merchant can sail either in or out without their consent.

And since the Pontus holds many things useful for the livelihood of the rest of mankind, the Byzantines are masters of all of them.

For toward the necessary needs of life, the regions of the Pontus furnish us with livestock and with the great number of persons brought into slavery, supplying them, by common admission, in the most abundant and most serviceable quantity; while toward our comforts they provide us unstintingly with honey, wax, and salt-fish.

They also receive what is surplus in our own regions—olive oil and every kind of wine—and in grain the exchange goes both ways, sometimes giving it when it is opportune, sometimes taking it.

From all these things the Greeks would necessarily have been either wholly cut off, or else have found the exchange of them entirely unprofitable, had the Byzantines chosen to be obstructive and to make common cause now with the Gauls, now still more with the Thracians—or had they not inhabited the place at all.

For owing to the narrowness of the passage and the multitude of barbarians lying alongside it, the Pontus would, by common admission, have been closed to our ships.

Now perhaps the greatest advantages for their own livelihood accrue to the Byzantines themselves, because of the special features of their location.

For everything that is surplus among them finds a ready and profitable export, and whatever they lack a ready and profitable import, without any hardship or danger.

Yet, as we have said, many useful things also come to other peoples through them. Therefore, being in a way common benefactors of all, they would reasonably deserve from the Greeks not only gratitude but also a shared defense in times of crisis brought on by the barbarians.

But since it has come about that the special character and natural advantage of the place are unknown to most people—because it lies a little outside the parts of the inhabited world that are commonly surveyed— and since we all wish to know such things, and above all to become eyewitnesses of places that have something exceptional or distinctive, or, if that is not possible, at least to hold in our minds notions and impressions of them as close to the truth as may be, it would be right to state what the circumstance is, and what it is that produces such great and such remarkable abundance for the aforementioned city.

Chapter 39 The Black Sea

The sea called the Pontus has a circumference of close to twenty-two thousand stades, and two mouths lying diametrically opposite to each other, the one opening from the Propontis, the other from the Maeotic Lake, which itself by itself has a circumference of eight thousand stades.

Into the aforementioned basins many great rivers discharge from Asia, and still greater and more numerous ones from Europe; and so it comes about that the Maeotis, being filled up by these, flows into the Pontus through its mouth, and the Pontus into the Propontis.

The mouth of the Maeotis is called the Cimmerian Bosporus, which has a breadth of about thirty stades and a length of sixty, and is shallow throughout.

The mouth of the Pontus is likewise named the Thracian Bosporus, and its length is one hundred and twenty stades, while its breadth is not everywhere the same.

The mouth begins, on the Propontis side, at the channel between Calchedon and Byzantium, which is fourteen stades across; and on the Pontus side, at the place called Hieron, where they say that Jason, on his return voyage from Colchis, first sacrificed to the twelve gods. This place lies on the Asiatic side, and is twelve stades distant from Europe, measured to the Sarapieum of Thrace, which lies directly opposite.

There are two causes of the continual outflow of both the Maeotis and the Pontus. The first is immediate and plain to everyone: as many streams fall into vessels of fixed circumference, the liquid keeps growing greater and greater; and if there were no outlet, it would necessarily keep rising and take up an ever greater and larger area of the basin, whereas, since outlets do exist, the water that is added and grows excessive must overflow and run off and be carried away continuously through the existing mouths.

The second cause is this: since the rivers carry much sediment of every kind into the aforementioned basins during heavy rains, the water, pressed out by the accumulating silt deposits, keeps rising and is carried away in the same manner through the existing outlets.

And since the silting and the inflow from the rivers are unceasing and continuous, the discharge through the mouths must necessarily be unceasing and continuous too.

Chapter 40 The Black Sea Being Silted Up

These, then, are the true causes of the outflow of the Pontus, deriving their credibility not from merchants' tales, but from observation according to nature—than which it is not easy to find a more accurate method. And since we have settled on this topic, we must leave nothing idle or resting on mere assertion—as most writers are accustomed to do—but must employ a more demonstrative manner of exposition, so that we leave none of the points under inquiry unresolved for our attentive readers.

For this is the peculiar mark of the present age, in which, all seas and lands having become navigable and passable, it would no longer be fitting to use poets and myth-writers as witnesses concerning things unknown— which is what our predecessors did about most matters, offering, as Heraclitus says, untrustworthy guarantors for disputed points. We must rather try, through history itself, to present sufficient credibility to our hearers.

We assert, then, that the Pontus has been silting up both in the past and now, and that in time both the Maeotis and the Pontus will be entirely filled up—provided the same arrangement of the regions remains, and the causes of the silting continue to operate without interruption.

For whenever time is infinite, and the basins are in every way wholly finite, it is plain that, even if only a trifling amount is brought in, they will be filled in time.

For by nature, a finite thing that is continuously being formed or destroyed in infinite time—even if it happens by the smallest degree (for let this now be supposed)—must inevitably reach completion according to the proposition.

And whenever it is not a trifling amount, but actually a very great deal of silt that is brought in, it is clear that what we are now describing will come to pass not at some distant time, but quickly.

And this is indeed seen to be happening. The Maeotis, then, has already become silted up: for the greater part of it lies at a depth of seven or five fathoms, and on this account it can no longer be sailed by large ships without a pilot.

And although from the beginning it was a sea flowing together with the Pontus, as the ancients agree, it is now a freshwater lake, the sea-water having been pressed out by the silt deposits, and the inflow of the rivers having prevailed.

The same will happen with the Pontus, and is in fact happening now; but it is not very evident to most people, because of the size of the basin. To those, however, who have given even a little attention, even now [...]

Chapter 41 Flow of the Danube into the Black Sea

What is happening is clear. Since the Danube empties from Europe into the Pontus through several mouths, the result is that opposite it there has formed, over a stretch of nearly a thousand stades, a long bank, lying a day's sail out from the shore [the bank that exists there now], built up from the silt carried out through the mouths.

Ships sailing into the Pontus, while still apparently running through open water, are caught off guard and run aground on these places at night. Sailors call them the Breasts.

As for why the deposit does not build up right against the shore but is instead pushed far out, this must be reckoned the cause.

For just so far as the currents of the rivers prevail through the force of their flow and drive back the sea, exactly that far must the soil and everything else carried along by the streams be pushed forward too, finding no rest or fixed position at all; but once the currents are spent by the depth and great mass of the sea, then it is natural that the silt, now sinking downward by its own nature, comes to rest and settles into a fixed position.

This is why, in the case of violent and great rivers, the deposits build up far out, while the water close to the land is deep; whereas with smaller, gently flowing rivers the sandbanks form right at their mouths.

This becomes especially evident during heavy rains: for then even the most ordinary streams, once they overpower the surf at their mouths, drive the silt out to sea to such an extent that the distance is proportional in each case to the force of the streams pouring in.

Chapter 42 Concentration of Salt

And as to the size of the bank just described, and in general the quantity of stones, timber, and earth carried down by the rivers, there is no reason whatever to be skeptical—for that would be foolish—when we see before our own eyes how some chance torrent in a short time will often gouge out and cut through sheer places, carry off every kind of timber, earth, and stone, and pile up such mounds that at times it alters those same places and makes them unrecognizable in a brief span of time. From all this it is not reasonable to wonder how rivers of such size and such character, flowing continuously, accomplish some of the effects described and in the end fill up the Pontus.

For by right reasoning it appears not merely probable but inevitable that this should come to pass.

A sign of what is to come is this: by just the degree to which the Maeotis is now fresher than the Pontic sea, by that same degree the Pontus is plainly seen to differ from our own sea.

From this it is clear that, whenever the time it takes for the Maeotis to be filled bears the same ratio to the time required as the size of the one basin bears to the other, then the Pontus too will come to be shallow, fresh, and marsh-like, just as the Maeotic lake is.

Indeed, we must suppose this will happen even sooner, in proportion as the streams of the rivers emptying into it are greater and more numerous.

Let this, then, be our answer to those who are inclined to disbelieve that the Pontus is now being silted up, and that one day it will be filled, and that so vast an open sea will become a lake and a marsh.

And let it be said all the more for the sake of the falsehoods and marvel-mongering of seafarers, so that we may not be forced, like children, to gape at everything that is said out of inexperience, but instead, having some traces of the truth, may be able from them to judge to some degree whether what is reported by various people is true or the opposite.

Now let us return to the continuous account of the favorable situation of the Byzantines.

Chapter 43 The Site of Byzantium

The mouth that joins the Pontus and the Propontis is, as I said just now, one hundred and twenty stades in length. Hieron marks its boundary toward the Pontus, while the narrows at Byzantium mark its boundary toward the Propontis.

Between these two points lies the Hermaeum, set on a kind of promontory of Europe that juts out into the strait. It lies about five stades from Asia and stands at the very narrowest point of the whole mouth. It was here, they say, that Darius bridged the channel at the time when he made his crossing to attack the Scythians.

Now along the rest of its course from the Pontus the flow of the current is fairly uniform, because the lands bordering the strait on either side are alike in form.

But when the stream, carried down from the Pontus and squeezed together, strikes with force against the European Hermaeum, where I said the narrowest point lies, it then turns aside, as if from a blow, and dashes against the regions of Asia on the opposite side.

From there, in turn, as if recoiling, it makes its return back toward the headlands of Europe called the Hestiae.

Setting out from there once again, it falls upon what is called the Cow, a place in Asia, the spot on which the myths say Io first set foot after she had crossed over.

Finally the current, starting from the Cow, runs straight toward Byzantium itself. Splitting around the city, a small part of it is cut off into the gulf called the Horn, while the greater part swerves away once more.

It is no longer strong enough, however, to reach the land opposite, on which Calchedon stands.

For having made its returns back and forth many times, and since the channel here is broad, the current has by now spent its force at this point and no longer makes short reflections at a sharp angle toward the far shore, but rather at an obtuse one.

Chapter 44 Contrast between Byzantium and Calchedon

For this reason it leaves the city of the Calchedonians behind and runs down the middle of the channel. And the very thing that makes the city of the Byzantines so excellently situated, and that of the Calchedonians the opposite, is just what I have now described—even though, to the eye, the position of both seems equally favorable for advantage.

Yet, all the same, it is not easy to sail into the one even if you wish to, whereas to the other the current carries you of necessity, even against your will, as I said just now.

Here is the proof of this: those who want to cross from Calchedon to Byzantium cannot sail straight across because of the current between them, but instead skirt along toward the Cow and the place called Chrysopolis.

It was this place that the Athenians once seized, on the advice of Alcibiades, when they first set about levying tolls on those sailing into the Pontus; and from there they let their ships go forward with the current, which carries them of necessity to Byzantium.

The situation is similar for a voyage on the other side of the city of the Byzantines.

For whether a man runs from the Hellespont before the south winds, or toward the Hellespont from the Pontus before the Etesian winds, the voyage along Europe from the city of the Byzantines is straight and at the same time easily made, on toward the narrows of the Propontis at Abydos and Sestos, and back again likewise from there to Byzantium.

But from Calchedon along the Asian coast it is just the opposite, because the passage is full of bays and because the territory of the Cyziceni projects far out.

For a ship carried from the Hellespont toward Calchedon to make use of the voyage along Europe, and then, as it draws near the region of Byzantium, to bend and run across to Calchedon, is difficult on account of the current and the things already mentioned.

Likewise, again, for a ship sailing out, to run straight for Thrace is utterly impossible, both because of the current between them and because both winds blow against both attempts.

For the south wind carries ships into the Pontus and the north wind out of it, and one must use these very winds for each of the two voyages.

These, then, are the things that give the Byzantines their advantage by sea; the matters concerning the land [...]

Chapter 45 Disadvantages of Byzantium On Land

What I am about to describe is the source of their difficulties. Since Thrace surrounds their territory on every side, running from one sea to the other, the Byzantines are locked in a perpetual and grueling war against the Thracians.

For they cannot, even by mounting a full campaign and defeating them, rid themselves of the war once and for all, because of the sheer number both of the common tribes and of the chieftains.

If they overcome one ruler, three others still more formidable march into their land.

Nor do they gain anything by giving way and submitting to tribute and treaties: for if they make a concession to one, they find by that very act five times as many enemies on their hands.

For this reason they are gripped by a perpetual and grueling war—for what is more precarious than a war with a barbarian neighbor on your own doorstep?

What is more terrible? Yet beyond wrestling with these utterly ruinous troubles on land, and apart from the other evils that attend any war, they also endure a kind of punishment worthy of Tantalus, as the poet describes it.

For though they possess the most fertile of lands, when they have worked it hard and the harvest comes in, outstanding in its abundance and quality, then the barbarians descend upon them and either destroy the crops or gather them up and carry them off.

And so, on top of the lost labor and expense, they look on at the devastation and, because the harvest was so fine, they cry out in indignation and bear what has happened with great bitterness.

Still, since they were accustomed to enduring the war with the Thracians, they kept it within its usual bounds and held to their original fair dealings with the other Greeks.

Chapter 46 Byzantium, The Gauls, And Rhodians

But when, on top of all this, the Gauls under Comontorius fell upon them as well, they were brought to the very brink of ruin. These Gauls had set out from their homeland together with Brennus; but having escaped the disaster at Delphi and reached the Hellespont, they did not cross over into Asia. Instead they stayed where they were, drawn to the region around Byzantium for its appeal.

Having defeated the Thracians and established Tyle as their royal seat, they brought the Byzantines into the gravest danger.

At first, during the raids carried out under Comontorius, their first king, the Byzantines kept buying them off with gifts of three thousand, or five thousand, and sometimes even ten thousand gold pieces, on the condition that they not ravage their land.

In the end the Byzantines were forced to agree to pay a yearly tribute of eighty talents, and this continued down to the reign of Cavarus, under whom the kingdom was dissolved and the whole Gallic people was wiped out, conquered in turn by the Thracians in a reversal of fortune.

It was during this period that the Byzantines, hard pressed by the tribute payments, at first sent embassies to the Greeks, asking them for help and joint support to meet the crisis surrounding them.

Chapter 47 The Byzantines Institute a Toll

But since most of the Greeks paid no attention, the Byzantines, driven by necessity, set about levying a duty on those sailing into the Pontus. Since the Byzantines' collection of a toll on goods exported from the Pontus proved a serious loss and inconvenience to everyone, people regarded it as an outrage, and all the seafaring traders directed their complaints against the Rhodians, on the grounds that the Rhodians were considered the leading power at sea. It was out of this that the war arose, the war I am now about to recount.

For the Rhodians, roused to action partly by the injury done to themselves and partly by the loss falling on their neighbors, at first took their allies along and sent an embassy to the Byzantines, demanding that they abolish the transit toll.

But the Byzantines would not yield at all on the matter; they were convinced that they had justice on their side, on the strength of the rebuttal delivered before them by Hecatodorus and Olympiodorus to the Rhodian envoys— for these men were at that time at the head of the Byzantine government—and so on that occasion the Rhodians went away having accomplished nothing.

On their return home, they voted for war against the Byzantines for the reasons stated above.

Chapter 48 Achaeus Rises to Power Beyond the Taurus

At once they dispatched envoys to Prusias, urging him too to join the war; for they knew that Prusias was already at odds, on several grounds, with the Byzantines. The Byzantines, for their part, did much the same thing: they sent envoys both to Attalus and to Achaeus, asking them for help.

Now Attalus was eager to assist, but at that moment his influence carried little weight, since he had been hemmed in by Achaeus and confined to his ancestral dominion.

Achaeus, on the other hand, who controlled the territory on this side of the Taurus and had recently proclaimed himself king, promised to send aid.

His commitment to this course raised great hopes among the Byzantines, and produced the opposite effect—dismay—among the Rhodians and Prusias.

Achaeus was a kinsman of the Antiochus who had inherited the kingdom of Syria, and he came to hold the dominion just mentioned through circumstances such as these.

When Seleucus—the father of the aforementioned Antiochus—died, and Seleucus, the eldest of his sons, succeeded to the throne, Achaeus, because of his kinship, crossed the Taurus together with him, about two years before the events now being described.

For as soon as Seleucus the younger had succeeded to the kingdom and learned that Attalus had already brought the whole dominion on this side of the Taurus under his own control, he was spurred to defend his interests.

But after crossing the Taurus with a large army, he was treacherously murdered by Apaturius the Galatian and by Nicanor, and so lost his life.

Achaeus, as his kinship required, immediately avenged the murder by killing Nicanor and Apaturius, and took charge of the army and of affairs as a whole with prudence and magnanimity.

For although the opportunity lay open to him, and the impulse of the troops favored his placing the diadem on his own head, he chose not to do so; instead he kept the kingdom safe for Antiochus, the younger of the sons, and pressed on energetically to recover the whole region on this side of the Taurus.

But when affairs flowed his way beyond all expectation—since he had shut Attalus up within Pergamum itself and had become master of all the rest—he was carried away by his successes and at once ran off course.

Placing the diadem on his head and proclaiming himself king, he was at that time the weightiest and most formidable of all the kings and princes on this side of the Taurus.

And it was above all in him that the Byzantines placed their trust at that time when they took on the war against the Rhodians and Prusias.

Chapter 49 Complaints of Prusias

Prusias had grievances against the Byzantines that went back some time. In the first place, he complained that, although they had voted to set up certain statues of him, they had never actually erected them, but instead let the matter drift into neglect and oblivion.

He was also displeased with them for throwing all their energy into reconciling Achaeus and Attalus and bringing their feud and war to an end, since he reckoned that a friendship between those two would, in many respects, work against his own interests.

He was further irritated by the fact that the Byzantines, as it appeared, had sent delegates to Attalus to take part in the sacrifices at the festival of Athena, but had sent no one to him for the Soteria.

And so, with his anger quietly smoldering on account of all these things, he gladly seized upon the opening the Rhodians offered him. Coming to terms with their ambassadors, he agreed that they should wage the war by sea, while he himself reckoned he would do the enemy no less harm by land.

The war of the Rhodians against the Byzantines, then—

Chapter 50 The War between Rhodes and Byzantium Begins

This was how it came about and how it began. At first the Byzantines fought the war vigorously, convinced that Achaeus would come to their aid, and that they themselves, by bringing Tiboetes over

from Macedonia, would in turn confront Prusias with fears and dangers.

But Prusias, prosecuting the war with the determination already described, took from them the place called Hieron at the mouth of the strait, which the Byzantines had purchased at great expense a little while before and made their own because of the convenient position of the spot, for they wished to leave no one any base from which to operate—neither against the merchants sailing into the Pontus, nor with respect to the slave trade and the fisheries of that very sea.

He also took from them the territory in Asia, in Mysia, which the Byzantines had held for many years already.

The Rhodians, for their part, manned six ships and, together with these, took on four more from their allies, and, having appointed Xenophantus as admiral, sailed for the Hellespont with ten ships in all.

With the rest they lay at anchor off Sestos and barred those sailing into the Pontus, while the admiral, putting out with a single ship, tested the Byzantines, to see whether they had by now had a change of heart, cowed by the war.

When they paid him no attention, he sailed off, took up the remaining ships, and withdrew with the whole fleet to Rhodes.

The Byzantines meanwhile sent to Achaeus, asking him to help, and dispatched men to Tiboetes to bring him from Macedonia, for it was thought that the rule of Bithynia belonged no less to Tiboetes than to Prusias, since he was Prusias' uncle on his father's side.

But the Rhodians, observing the firm stand of the Byzantines, set about practically achieving their aim.

Chapter 51 Byzantium, Rhodes, and Prusias Treaties

For seeing that the mainstay of the Byzantines' endurance in the war lay in their hopes resting on Achaeus, and observing that Achaeus' father was being held at Alexandria while Achaeus himself set the highest store by his father's safety, they resolved to send an embassy to Ptolemy and to ask for the release of Andromachus.

They had made this request before only as a side matter, but now they pressed for it in earnest, so that by rendering Achaeus this favor they might put him under such an obligation to them that he would grant whatever they asked.

When the ambassadors arrived, Ptolemy at first considered keeping Andromachus back, in the hope of using him at an opportune moment, both because his own disputes with Antiochus remained unresolved and because Achaeus, having recently proclaimed himself king, now controlled a domain of considerable importance— for Andromachus was the father of Achaeus and the brother of Laodice, the wife of Seleucus.

Nevertheless, since Ptolemy was inclined toward the Rhodians in his whole policy and was eager to oblige them in everything, he gave his consent and handed Andromachus over to them to convey to his son.

Having accomplished this, and having added some honors for Achaeus besides, they stripped the Byzantines of their most substantial hope.

And another awkward thing also befell the Byzantines: Tiboetes, while being brought down from Macedonia, wrecked their plans by departing this life.

When this happened, the spirits of the Byzantines collapsed, while Prusias, emboldened in his hopes for the war, at once pressed it on himself energetically from the Asian side, and at the same time hired Thracians who kept the Byzantines from passing through their gates on the European side.

Chapter 52 Cavarus, Gallic King, Negotiates Peace

So the Byzantines, cheated of their own hopes and hard pressed by the war on every side, began to look about for a respectable way out of their situation. And when Cavarus, the king of the Gauls, arrived at Byzantium and showed himself eager to put an end to the war, ambitiously extending his hands in mediation, both Prusias and the Byzantines agreed to his proposals.

When the Rhodians learned of Cavarus' eagerness and of Prusias' compliance, and being themselves anxious to bring their own design to completion, they appointed Aridices as ambassador to the Byzantines and sent off along with him Polemocles in command of three triremes, wishing, as the saying goes, to send the Byzantines both the spear and the herald's staff at once. On their arrival the settlements were concluded, in the year when Cothon, son of Calligeiton, was Hieromnemon at Byzantium.

With the Rhodians the terms were straightforward: the Byzantines were to levy no toll on those sailing into the Pontus, and, this being done, the Rhodians and their allies were to be at peace with the Byzantines.

With Prusias the terms were roughly these: that there should be peace and friendship between Prusias and the Byzantines for all time, and that neither the Byzantines should make war on Prusias in any way nor Prusias on the Byzantines; that Prusias should restore to the Byzantines their lands, their forts, their populations, and their prisoners of war without ransom, and, in addition to these, the vessels captured at the start of the war and the missiles seized in the strongholds, and likewise the timber, the stonework, and the roof tiles from the place called Hieron— for Prusias, in his anxiety over the return of Tiboetes, had demolished all the forts that seemed conveniently situated for any purpose — and that Prusias should also compel those among the Bithynians who held any property taken from the territory of Mysia that was subject to the Byzantines to give it back to the farmers.

Chapter 53 War In Crete

Such, then, were the beginnings that the war of the Rhodians and Prusias against the Byzantines took, and such its end. At about this time the Cnossians sent envoys to the Rhodians and persuaded them to dispatch the ships under Polemocles' command, together with three more undecked vessels which they were to launch and send in addition.

When this had been done and the ships had arrived in Crete, the people of Eleutherna, suspecting that Polemocles and his men had put to death their fellow-citizen Timarchus as a favor to the Cnossians, first proclaimed a right of reprisal against the Rhodians, and after that went to open war.

The Lyttians too, a little before this time, met with an irreparable disaster. For the affairs of Crete as a whole were at that time in roughly the following state.

The Cnossians, having come to an understanding with the Gortynians, had brought the whole of Crete under their power except the city of the Lyttians; and since this city alone refused to submit, they set about making war on it, eager to destroy it utterly, as an example and a source of terror to the rest of the Cretans.

At first, then, all the Cretans together waged war against the Lyttians; but when rivalry arose out of trivial occasions—as is the way with the Cretans—they fell into faction against one another.

The Polyrrhenians, the Ceraïtae, and the Lappaeans, and with them the Horii together with the Arcadians, with one accord broke away from their friendship with the Cnossians, and resolved to make common cause with the Lyttians. Among the Gortynians, the older men chose the side of the Cnossians, while the younger chose that of the Lyttians, and so they fell into faction with each other.

The Cnossians, since this upheaval among their allies had come upon them unexpectedly, called in a thousand men from Aetolia in accordance with their alliance.

Chapter 54 The Fall of Lyttos

As soon as this had happened, the older men of the Gortynians seized the citadel and brought in the Cnossians and the Aetolians; and some of the young men they expelled, and others they killed, and they handed the city over to the Cnossians. At about the same time, when the Lyttians had marched out in full force into enemy territory, the Cnossians, perceiving what had happened, seized Lyttos while it was stripped of its defenders.

They sent off the children and the women to Cnossus, and after burning the city, razing it to the ground, and ravaging it in every possible way, they returned home.

The Lyttians, arriving back at their city from the expedition and seeing what had befallen it, were so overcome with grief in their hearts that not one of those present had the courage even to enter his homeland; but all of them, after marching around it in a circle, and after wailing aloud and lamenting again and again the fate of their fatherland and their own, turned back and withdrew once more to the city of the Lappaeans.

The Lappaeans received them kindly and with all eagerness; and these men, who in a single day had become cityless strangers instead of citizens, joined their allies in making war against the Cnossians.

Thus Lyttos—a colony and kinswoman of the Spartans, the most ancient of the cities of Crete, and by common consent the constant nurse of the bravest men among the Cretans—was utterly and unexpectedly swept away.

Chapter 55 Polyrrhen and Lappa Join the Alliance

The people of Polyrrhenia and Lappa, together with all their allies, observed that the Cnossians were holding fast to their alliance with the Aetolians, and they saw that the Aetolians were at war with both King Philip and the Achaeans. They therefore sent envoys to the king and to the Achaeans to ask for military aid and for admission into alliance.

The Achaeans and Philip received them into the common alliance and dispatched a relief force: four hundred Illyrians under the command of Plator, two hundred Achaeans, and a hundred Phocians.

These troops arrived and, after no long time, sailed home again, having greatly strengthened the position of the Polyrrhenians and their allies.

For in a very short span of time they penned the Eleuthernaeans and the Cydonians, and the people of Aptera as well, within their walls, and forced them to abandon the alliance with the Cnossians and share in the same hopes as the Polyrrhenians. Once this had been accomplished, the Polyrrhenians and the allies who stood with them sent five hundred Cretans to Philip and the Achaeans, while the Cnossians, a little earlier, had sent a thousand to the Aetolians. Both contingents fought alongside their respective sides in the war then under way.

Meanwhile the Gortynian exiles also seized the harbor of Phaestus, and likewise held the harbor of Gortyn itself by a daring stroke; and using these places as their bases of operations, they made war on the party within the city.

Chapter 56 Raid of Aetolians In the Peloponnese

Such, then, was the state of affairs in Crete. Around this same time Mithridates also opened war against the people of Sinope, and this became, as it were, the beginning and the pretext of the misfortune that was ultimately brought upon the Sinopeans.

When, with a view to this war, they had sent an embassy to the Rhodians and called upon them for aid, the Rhodians resolved to appoint three men and to give them a hundred and forty thousand drachmas, with which those appointed were to procure the supplies needed by the Sinopeans.

The men so commissioned made ready ten thousand jars of wine, three hundred talents of dressed hair, a hundred talents of prepared sinew, a thousand suits of armor, three thousand stamped gold

pieces, and besides these four catapults together with the men to operate them.

The Sinopean envoys took these and returned home; for the Sinopeans were in dread that Mithridates might undertake to besiege them both by land and by sea, and so they were directing all their preparations to that end.

Sinope lies on the right-hand side of the Pontus as one sails toward Phasis, and it is settled on a peninsula that juts out into the sea. The neck of this peninsula, joining it to Asia, is no more than two stades across, and the city, set upon it, effectively closes it off from sea to sea.

The remainder of the peninsula projects out into the open sea; it is level ground and entirely easy to approach toward the city, but all around, on the seaward side, it is sheer, hard to land upon, and offers altogether very few points of access.

For this reason the Sinopeans were anxious that Mithridates might construct siege works along the side facing Asia, and likewise, on the side opposite to it, make a landing from the sea onto the level ground and the heights overlooking the city, and so attempt to besiege them.

They therefore set about fortifying the seaward circuit of the peninsula, staking off and entrenching the approaches from the sea, while at the same time placing missile weapons and soldiers at the points of advantage.

For the whole extent of it is not large, and is altogether easy to control and of modest size.

Chapter 57 Philip Starts for Aetolia

So the affairs at Sinope stood as I have described. Meanwhile King Philip, having set out from Macedonia with his army—for it was at this stage of his undertakings that I broke off my account of the Social War—marched toward Thessaly and Epirus, eager to make his invasion of Aetolia by that route.

At about this same time Alexander and Dorimachus, having an intrigue under way against the city of the Aegiratans, gathered around twelve hundred Aetolians at Oeanthe in Aetolia, which lies directly opposite the aforesaid town, and, having made ready ferry boats for them, were watching for a chance to sail across in fulfillment of their plan.

For one of the deserters from Aetolia, who had spent a considerable time among the Aegiratans and had observed that the men guarding the gate facing Aegium got drunk and carried out their watch carelessly, had crossed over again and again to Dorimachus and his party and invited them to attempt the venture, since they were thoroughly at home in enterprises of this kind.

The city of the Aegiratans is built on the Peloponnesian shore of the Corinthian Gulf, between the cities of Aegium and Sicyon. It sits upon rugged and hard-to-climb hills, faces by its position toward Parnassus and that part of the coast opposite, and lies about seven stades back from the sea.

When a chance to sail offered itself to Dorimachus and his men, they put out and came to anchor, while it was still night, at the mouth of the river that flows down past the city.

Alexander and Dorimachus, then, and with them Archidamus the son of Pantaleon, having the main body of the Aetolians about them, began advancing toward the city along the road that comes from Aegium.

But the deserter, taking the twenty fittest men, made his way over the cliffs by the trackless routes faster than the rest thanks to his familiarity with the ground, and slipping in through a certain water channel, caught the men at the gate still asleep.

Having cut them down while they were still in their beds, and having hacked through the bars with their axes, he opened the gates to the Aetolians.

These rushed in, but then handled the situation with conspicuous lack of forethought—which proved to be a contributing cause of the Aegiratans' salvation and of the Aetolians' destruction.

Chapter 58 The Aetolians Repulsed At Aegira

For supposing that getting inside the gates was the whole point of taking an enemy's city, in this manner they handled their affairs. And so, after staying together only a very short time around the marketplace, they then, in their passion for plunder, drifted apart, broke into the houses, and began carrying off the people's property—and by now it was broad daylight.

The Aegiratans, the affair having befallen them utterly unhoped-for and unexpected, were thrown into panic and terror: those upon whose houses the enemy had descended all turned to flight out of the city, supposing that it was already firmly in the enemy's hands.

But all those who, hearing the shouting, came out to help from houses that had not yet been touched, ran together to the citadel.

These kept growing more numerous and more confident, while the body of Aetolians, on the contrary, grew smaller and more disordered, for the reasons already given.

Nevertheless Dorimachus and his men, seeing the danger now closing around them, rallied together and charged the men holding the citadel, supposing that by their boldness and daring they would strike panic into those who had assembled for the defense and put them to flight.

But the Aegiratans, cheering one another on, fought back and grappled with the Aetolians nobly.

Since the citadel was unwalled, and the fighting was hand to hand and man against man, the contest was at first what one would expect, the one side fighting for fatherland and children, the other for their own survival. In the end, however, the Aetolians who had broken in were routed.

The Aegiratans, seizing the opening of their enemies' wavering, pressed upon them vigorously and terrifyingly. As a result it came about that most of the Aetolians, in their panic, fleeing of their own accord, were trampled together at the gates.

Alexander fell in hand-to-hand fighting in the thick of the action, while Archidamus perished in the crush and suffocation at the gates.

Of the rest of the Aetolian host, part was trampled underfoot, and part, fleeing over the cliffs by the trackless ways, broke their necks.

What part of them did get through safely to the ships threw away their arms in utter disgrace and, against all expectation, made their voyage back.

Thus the Aegiratans, having lost their fatherland through negligence, recovered it again, against all expectation, through their courage and gallantry.

Chapter 59 Euripidas

At about the same time Euripidas, who had been sent out by the Aetolians as general for the Eleans, overran the territory of Dyme, Pharae, and also Tritaea, and after rounding up a considerable quantity of plunder, began withdrawing toward Elis.

But Miccus of Dyme, who happened at that time to be deputy general of the Achaeans, came out to the rescue with the full levy of the Dymaeans and Pharaeans, and with the Tritaeans as well, and fell upon the enemy as they were retiring.

Pressing too eagerly upon the retreating force, however, he ran into an ambush and was checked, and lost many of his men: forty were killed, and about two hundred of the infantry taken prisoner.

Euripidas, then, having won this advantage and being elated at what had happened, marched out again a few days later and seized, near the Araxus, a well-placed fort of the Dymaeans called the Wall—which the myths say Heracles built long ago, when he was at war with the Eleans, wishing to use it as a base of operations against them.

Chapter 60 Philip Advances Southward

The peoples of Dyme, Pharae, and Tritaea, having come off the worse in their attempt at relief and fearing what was to come from the seizure of the fort, at first sent messengers to the general of the Achaeans, reporting what had happened and asking him to help them; afterwards they dispatched envoys to make the same request.

But Aratus was unable to assemble the mercenary force, because during the Cleomenic War the Achaeans had fallen behind in some of the pay owed to the hired soldiers; and in general he conducted his undertakings—in a word, the whole business of the war—without daring and sluggishly.

For this reason Lycurgus took the Athenaeum of the Megalopolitans, and Euripidas, following up the successes already mentioned, took Gortyna in the territory of Telphusa.

And the people of Dyme, Pharae, and Tritaea, having lost hope in any help from the general, agreed among themselves not to pay the common contributions to the Achaeans, but to raise mercenaries of their own—three hundred infantry and fifty cavalry—and through these to secure their territory.

In doing this they were thought to have deliberated reasonably enough regarding their own affairs, but the opposite regarding the common interest; for they seemed to have become the originators and leaders of a wicked approach and pretext for those who wished to break up the confederacy.

Yet the greatest share of the blame for this action one might justly lay upon the general, who was negligent, kept procrastinating, and continually abandoned those who needed him.

For every man who is in danger, so long as he can hold on to some hope from his kinsmen and allies, is inclined to rely on them; but when, in his straits, he gives up that hope, then at last he is forced to help himself as best he can.

Therefore the Tritaeans, Pharaeans, and Dymaeans are not to be blamed for raising mercenaries of their own when the leader of the Achaeans was dragging his feet; but for renouncing the contributions to the common treasury they deserve reproach.

For they ought not to have neglected their own need—being indeed in a good position and able to act—yet they should at the same time have kept up their just obligations toward the common commonwealth, all the more since recovery of such payment was guaranteed without fail under the common laws, and, above all, since they had been founders of the Achaean confederacy.

Chapter 61 Philip Arrives in Epirus

Such, then, was the state of affairs in the Peloponnese. King Philip, having passed through Thessaly, arrived in Epirus.

Taking up the Epirotes alongside the Macedonians in full force, together with the three hundred slingers from Achaea who had joined him, and in addition the five hundred Cretans sent by the Polyrrhenians, he advanced; and having passed through Epirus, he arrived in the territory of the Ambracians.

Now, if he had at once pressed straight on and thrust into the interior of Aetolia, falling upon it suddenly and unexpectedly with so heavy a force, he would have put an end to the whole business.

But as it was, persuaded by the Epirotes to reduce Ambracus first by siege, he gave the Aetolians a breathing space in which to make a stand, to take some forethought, and to prepare for what lay ahead.

For the Epirotes, placing their own interest above the common interest of the allies and being intensely eager to bring Ambracus under their own control, begged Philip to lay siege to the stronghold and to capture this first, since they counted it of the greatest importance to recover Ambracia from the Aetolians, and hoped that this could be accomplished only if, having gained mastery of the aforementioned place, they should then settle down to besiege the city.

For Ambracus is a stronghold well fortified with both outworks and a wall, and it lies amid marshes, having a single narrow, raised causeway as its approach from the land; and it is conveniently situated so as to command both the territory of the Ambracians and the city.

Chapter 62 Scopas Destroys Dium

Philip, then, won over by the Epirotes and having encamped around Ambracus, set about the preparations for the siege. Scopas, meanwhile, at this same time took up the Aetolians in full force, and making his march through Thessaly, invaded Macedonia; he advanced and destroyed the grain throughout Pieria, and after gathering a great quantity of plunder, he set off back, making his march toward Dium.

When the inhabitants had abandoned the place, he entered it and razed the walls, the houses, and the gymnasium; and besides these he burned the colonnades around the sacred precinct and destroyed the rest of the offerings—all that served for adornment or for the use of those gathering for the festivals; and he overturned all the statues of the kings as well.

This man, then, having from the very outset of the war and in his very first action carried on war not only against men but also against the gods, made his way back.

And on arriving in Aetolia, he was honored and admired—not as one who had committed sacrilege, but as a man who had proved himself good in the public service—having filled the Aetolians with empty hopes and irrational arrogance.

For from these events they conceived the notion that no one would dare even to come near Aetolia, while they themselves would fearlessly plunder not only the Peloponnese, as had been their custom, but Thessaly and Macedonia as well.

Chapter 63 Philip's Aetolian Campaign

Philip, however, on hearing of the events in Macedonia—and having at once reaped the consequences of the Epirotes' ignorance and contentiousness—was besieging Ambracus.

Making vigorous use of his earthworks and the rest of his siege apparatus, he quickly cowed those within, and took the stronghold in forty days all told.

He let the garrison—some five hundred Aetolians—depart under truce, and so fulfilled the Epirotes' desire by handing Ambracus over to them.

He himself, taking up his force, advanced past Charadra, eager to cross the so-called Ambracian gulf where it is narrowest, near the Acarnanian temple called Actium.

For the aforementioned gulf issues from the Sicilian sea between Epirus and Acarnania through an altogether narrow mouth—less than five stades wide— but as it advances inland it stretches to a breadth of a hundred stades, while in length it runs in from the sea about three hundred stades; and it forms the boundary between Epirus and Acarnania, having Epirus on the north and Acarnania on the south.

Having ferried his force across at the aforementioned mouth, and having passed through Acarnania, he came to the Aetolian city called Phoeteiae, having taken along on the way two thousand Acarnanian infantry and two hundred cavalry.

Having encamped around the aforementioned city and made vigorous and terrifying assaults upon it for two days, he took it by capitulation, releasing the Aetolians within under truce.

But on the following night, since the city was thought to be still untaken, five hundred Aetolians came to its aid; the king, learning of their approach beforehand, set ambushes at certain well-chosen spots, killed most of them, and took the rest captive, except for a very few.

After this, having measured out grain rations for thirty days to his force from the captured stores—for a great quantity had been found amassed at Phoeteiae—he advanced, making his march into the territory of Stratus.

At a distance of about ten stades from the city he encamped beside the river Achelous, and from there he set out and fearlessly ravaged the country, since none of the enemy dared to come out against him.

Chapter 64 Philip Marches Toward Metropolis

At this time the Achaeans, hard pressed by the war and learning that the king was close at hand, sent ambassadors asking him to come to their aid.

These men, meeting Philip while he was still near Stratus, discussed the rest of their business according to their instructions, and, pointing out to the army the spoils to be had from the enemy's country, tried to persuade him to cross the Rhium and invade Elis.

The king, having heard them out, detained the ambassadors, saying that he would deliberate about their requests; he himself broke camp and advanced, making his march toward Metropolis and Conope.

The Aetolians held the citadel of Metropolis but abandoned the town. Philip, having set fire to Metropolis, pressed straight on toward Conope.

When the Aetolian cavalry had gathered and dared to confront him at the crossing of the river, which lies twenty stades in front of the city, and were confident that they would either stop him altogether or do much harm to the Macedonians during the crossing, the king, perceiving their design, ordered his peltasts to enter the river first and to make the crossing in a dense body, locked together unit by unit with shields interlocked.

His men obeyed; and as soon as the first company had crossed, the Aetolian cavalry made a brief trial against it, but since this company stood fast with shields locked, and the second and third, as they crossed, joined their arms to the one already in place, the cavalry, accomplishing nothing and finding themselves in difficulty, withdrew toward the city.

And from then on the spirit of the Aetolians, having taken refuge in their cities, held itself quiet.

Philip, having crossed over with his army and fearlessly ravaged this district too, advanced, making his march toward Ithoria. This is a stronghold that lies squarely on the pass and is remarkable for its strength, both natural and man-made.

As he drew near, the garrison, terror-stricken, abandoned the place; and the king, having gained mastery of it, razed it to the ground.

Chapter 65 Philip Takes Paeanium

In the same way he ordered his foraging parties to bring down the remaining towers throughout the country. Once he had passed through the narrows, he made the rest of the march at an easy, unhurried pace, allowing his army the chance to gather plunder from the countryside.

When the camp was fully stocked with every kind of provision, he came to Oeniadae.

Pitching his camp near Paeanium, he decided to capture this place first. By mounting continuous assaults he took it by storm—a city not large in its perimeter, for it measured less than seven stades, but in the whole construction of its houses, walls, and towers inferior to none.

He razed the entire wall to the ground, and, dismantling the houses, he fitted the timber and roof-tiles onto rafts and kept floating them down the river to Oeniadae with great enthusiasm.

At first the Aetolians set out to hold the citadel at Oeniadae, having secured it with walls and the rest of their works; but as Philip drew near they took fright and abandoned it.

The king, having taken over this city as well, advanced from it and encamped in Calydonia at a stronghold called Elaeus, which had been made exceptionally secure with walls and the other defenses —Attalus having undertaken to build up its fortifications for the Aetolians.

Carrying this place too by storm, the Macedonians ravaged the whole of Calydonia and then returned again to Oeniadae.

Philip, observing how advantageously the place was situated, both for other purposes and especially for the crossings into the Peloponnese, set about walling the town.

For Oeniadae happens to lie by the sea, at the edge of Acarnania where it borders on the Aetolians, around the mouth of the Corinthian Gulf.

The town is positioned opposite the coastline of the Dymaeans in the Peloponnese, and lies nearest to the region around Araxus, for it is no more than a hundred stades distant. With his eye on these advantages, he fortified the citadel by itself, and, throwing a wall around the harbor and the dockyards together, he undertook to connect them to the citadel, using the materials from Paeanium to manage the work.

Chapter 66 Philip Recalled To Macedonia

While the king was still occupied with this work, a messenger arrived from Macedonia making it clear that the Dardani, suspecting his intended expedition into the Peloponnese, were gathering forces and making great preparations, having resolved to invade Macedonia.

On hearing this, and judging it necessary to come quickly to the aid of Macedonia, he dismissed the envoys from the Achaeans, giving them the reply that, once he had dealt with what had just been reported to him, he would after that make nothing more pressing than to help them to the best of his power.

He himself broke camp and made his return march in haste, by the same route as that by which he had come.

Just as he was about to cross the Ambracian Gulf from Acarnania into Epirus, Demetrius of Pharos appeared, sailing in a single boat, having been driven out of Illyria by the Romans—matters I have made clear in the earlier parts of this work.

Philip received him kindly and told him to sail toward Corinth and from there to come through Thessaly into Macedonia; while he himself crossed into Epirus and pressed steadily onward.

When he reached Pella in Macedonia, the Dardani—learning of Philip's arrival from some Thracian deserters—took fright and at once broke up their expedition, even though they were already close to Macedonia.

Philip, on learning of the Dardani's change of heart, dismissed all the Macedonians to gather in the autumn harvest, while he himself went to Thessaly and spent the remaining part of the summer at Larisa.

It was around this time that Aemilius brought his triumph into Rome in splendid style for his Illyrian campaign, and that Hannibal, having taken Saguntum by storm, dismissed his forces into winter quarters; while the Romans, when news of the capture of Saguntum reached them, sent envoys to

demand the surrender of Hannibal from the Carthaginians, and at the same time made their preparations for the war, appointing as consuls Publius Cornelius and Tiberius Sempronius.

I have set out the particulars of these matters in the previous book; but I have now brought them forward by way of reminder, in keeping with my original undertaking, so that the corresponding events may be known.

Chapter 67 Philip Returns To the Peloponnese

And so the first year of the present Olympiad was coming to its close. Among the Aetolians, the time of the elections having now arrived, Dorimachus was chosen general. He at once took up his office, gathered the Aetolians under arms, and invaded the upland regions of Epirus, ravaging the country and pursuing its destruction with unusual ferocity.

For in most of what he did his aim was not so much his own profit as the injury of the Epirotes.

And when he reached the sanctuary at Dodona, he burned the colonnades, destroyed many of the votive offerings, and even razed the sacred building to the ground, so that the Aetolians observed the bounds neither of peace nor of war, but in both circumstances alike acted on their designs in defiance of the common customs and laws of mankind.

Having accomplished these and similar deeds, Dorimachus then withdrew once more to his own country.

The winter was still advancing, and everyone had given up expecting Philip to appear because of the season. But the king took up three thousand bronze-shielded troops, two thousand peltasts, three hundred Cretans, and in addition to these about four hundred horsemen of the royal guard, and set out from Larisa.

He moved them across from Thessaly into Euboea, and from there to Cynos, and came through Boeotia and the Megarid to Corinth about the time of the winter solstice, having made his approach so swift and secret that not one of the Peloponnesians suspected what had happened.

He closed the gates of Corinth, posted guards to control the roads, and on the very next day summoned Aratus the elder to come to him from Sicyon. He also sent off dispatches to the general of the Achaeans and to the cities, in which he made clear when and where they must all assemble under arms.

Chapter 68 Euripidas Intends to Attack Sicyon

Having arranged these matters, he broke camp and advanced, and pitched camp in Phliasia, near the temple of the Dioscuri. At about this same time Euripidas, who had two companies of Eleans together with the pirates and mercenaries—so that the whole force amounted to about two thousand two

hundred men, and along with these a hundred horsemen—set out from Psophis and made his march through Pheneus and Stymphalia. He knew nothing of Philip's movements, but intended to overrun the territory of the Sicyonians.

On the very night during which Philip happened to be encamping near the temple of the Dioscuri, Euripidas passed by the king's camp and was on the point of breaking into Sicyonian territory around dawn.

But some of Philip's Cretans, who had left their ranks and were ranging about in search of plunder, fell in with Euripidas and his men.

He questioned them, and so learned of the presence of the Macedonians. Without revealing to anyone any of what had happened, he took up his force, turned about, and withdrew again by the same road along which he had come, wishing—and indeed hoping—to outstrip the Macedonians by getting through Stymphalia and reaching the difficult country that lay beyond it.

Chapter 69 Euripidas Deserts the Eleans

The king, knowing nothing of the enemy's doings, broke camp at dawn in accordance with his own plan and advanced, having resolved to make his march past Stymphalus itself in the direction of Caphyae; for it was there that he had written to the Achaeans to assemble under arms. As the vanguard of the Macedonians reached the top of the pass near the place called Apelaurus—which lies about ten stades in front of the city of Stymphalus—it happened that at that very moment the vanguard of the Eleans also came up onto the same pass.

Euripidas, realizing from the reports brought to him what had occurred, took some of the cavalry with him, slipped away from the immediate crisis, and made his retreat to Psophis by the trackless cross-country routes.

The rest of the Elean host, abandoned by their commander and thrown into panic by what had happened, halted on the march, at a loss what to do and which way to turn.

At first their officers supposed that the troops they saw were some of the Achaeans who had come up to lend support; and what deceived them most of all were the bronze-shielded men.

They imagined these to be Megalopolitans, because the soldiers of that city had carried such arms in the battle near Sellasia against Cleomenes, when King Antigonus had equipped them for the occasion.

For this reason they withdrew in good order toward some higher ground that commanded the position, not yet despairing of getting away safely. But as soon as the advancing Macedonians drew close to them and they grasped the truth of the matter, they all threw down their arms and rushed into flight.

About twelve hundred of them were taken alive, while the rest of the host was destroyed—some by the Macedonians, others over the cliffs—and no more than a hundred escaped.

Philip sent the spoils and the prisoners off to Corinth and pressed on with the business in hand.

To all the Peloponnesians what had happened seemed beyond belief, for they learned of the king's arrival and of his victory in one and the same moment.

Chapter 70 Philip In Arcadia

Marching through Arcadia and enduring heavy snow and great hardship in the passes around Mount Olygyrtus, he came down on the third day, by night, to Caphyae.

After resting his force there for two days and taking on Aratus the younger together with the Achaeans he had gathered—so that the whole force came to about ten thousand men—he advanced through the territory of Clitor toward Psophis, collecting missiles and scaling ladders from the towns he passed through.

Psophis is, by common agreement, an ancient foundation of the Arcadians, belonging to the district of Azanis. With respect to the Peloponnese as a whole it lies in the interior, but with respect to Arcadia itself it stands on the western frontier, bordering on those who dwell at the farthest edges of the western Achaeans.

It is also well placed to overlook the territory of the Eleans, with whom at that time it happened to share a political alliance.

Reaching it on the third day from Caphyae, Philip encamped on the hills that rise opposite the city, from which he could safely survey both the whole town and the country round about it.

But when the king observed the strength of Psophis, he was at a loss what to do.

Along its western side rushes a violent winter torrent, which for the greater part of the winter is impassable, and which in any case makes the city secure and hard to approach because of the size of the ravine that its waters have gradually carved out over time as they sweep down from the higher ground.

Along its eastern side it has the Erymanthus, a great and violent river about which much has been said by many writers.

Since the torrent flows into the Erymanthus on the southern side of the city, the result is that three of its faces are enclosed by the rivers and protected in the manner described.

On the remaining side, that toward the north, there rises a strong fortified hill, which serves as a well-placed and serviceable citadel; and the city also has walls remarkable for their size and construction.

On top of all this, a relieving force from the Eleans had come into the town, and Euripidas, having survived his flight, was now inside it.

Chapter 71 Philip Captures Psophis

Taking all of this in and weighing it up, Philip was in part dissuaded by his calculations from forcing and besieging the city, yet in part eager for it, seeing the strategic advantage of the place.

For in proportion as it then bore down upon the Achaeans and Arcadians and served the Eleans as a secure base of war, so, if it were taken in turn, it would shield the Arcadians and become a well-placed jumping-off point for the allies against the Eleans.

Having therefore set his mind on this course, he ordered all the Macedonians to take their breakfast at first light and to stand ready in full equipment.

After this he crossed the bridge over the Erymanthus, and since no one stood in his way—so unexpected was the move—he came right up to the city itself with energy and to terrifying effect.

Euripidas and all those in the city were thrown into confusion by what was happening, for they had been convinced that the enemy would neither dare to attack and storm so strong a city in a single onset, nor be able to mount a prolonged siege, given the difficulty of the season.

And as they reasoned thus, they grew distrustful of one another, fearing that Philip had arranged some treachery against the city through men within it.

But when they saw nothing of the kind arising among themselves, the greater part rushed to the walls to defend them, while the Elean mercenaries went out by a gate on the higher ground, meaning to fall upon the enemy.

The king arranged the men who were to bring the ladders against the wall at three points, distributed the rest of the Macedonians likewise among them, and then, giving each party the signal by trumpet, launched the assault on the walls from every side at once.

At first the defenders of the city resisted gallantly and hurled many men down from the ladders.

But when the supply of missiles and of the other things needed ran short—as was bound to happen, since the preparations had been made on the spur of the moment—and the Macedonians, far from being daunted by what was happening, kept replacing each man thrown from the ladders, the next coming up without hesitation into his place, at last the men of the city broke and all fled toward the citadel. Of the king's troops, the Macedonians mounted the wall, while the Cretans closed with the mercenaries who had sallied out by the upper gate and forced them to throw down their arms and flee in utter disorder.

Pressing upon them and laying hands on them, the Cretans burst in through the gate along with them; and so it came about that the city was taken from every side at once.

The Psophidians, then, withdrew with their children and wives into the citadel, and with them Euripidas and his men, and likewise the rest of the survivors.

Chapter 72 The People of Psophis Surrender

The Macedonians, pouring in, at once plundered all the household goods from the houses, and after that quartered themselves in the dwellings and held the city.

Those who had taken refuge in the citadel, having no provisions of any kind, foresaw what was coming and decided to surrender themselves to Philip.

So they sent a herald to the king, and having obtained leave to send an embassy, they dispatched their magistrates and Euripidas along with them; these men made a truce and secured safety for all who had taken refuge there, foreigners and citizens alike.

The envoys then returned to the place from which they had set out, carrying instructions to stay where they were until the army should march off, so that none of the soldiers might disobey and plunder them.

The king, however, was forced by a fall of snow to remain on the spot for some days. During this time he gathered the Achaeans who were present and first pointed out to them the strength and strategic value of the city for the present war.

He then recounted the goodwill and devotion he felt toward their nation, and ended by declaring that he now ceded and gave the city to the Achaeans; for it was his settled aim to grant them what favors he could and to fall short in nothing of his zeal for them.

When Aratus and his men, along with the rest of the gathering, thanked him for this, Philip dismissed the assembly, set his army in motion, and marched toward Lasion.

The Psophidians came down from the citadel and recovered their city, each man his own dwelling, while Euripidas and his men departed to Corinth and from there to Aetolia.

Of the Achaean magistrates who were present, they set Proslaus of Sicyon over the citadel with an adequate garrison, and Pythias of Pellene over the city.

Such was the conclusion of the affair at Psophis.

Chapter 73 The Wealth of Elis

[...] in this fashion. The Eleans who were keeping watch over Lasion, learning of the Macedonians' arrival and having also heard of what had happened at Psophis, immediately abandoned the town.

So as soon as the king arrived, he took the place at his first approach; and, furthering the goodwill he felt toward the Achaean nation, he handed Lasion over to them as well. In the same way, when the

Eleans evacuated Stratus too, he restored it to the people of Telphusa.

Having settled these matters, he reached Olympia on the fifth day. There he sacrificed to the god, gave a banquet for his officers, and at the same time rested the remainder of his army for three days, after which he broke camp once more.

Advancing into Elean territory, he loosed his foraging parties upon the countryside while he himself pitched camp near the place called the Artemisium.

After taking in the plunder there, he moved on again to the Dioscurium. As the land was being ravaged, the number of those captured was large, but still larger was the number of those who fled together into the neighboring villages and the fortified places.

For it happens that the territory of the Eleans is exceptionally well populated and full of people and property, beyond the rest of the Peloponnese.

Indeed, some of them are so devoted to life on the land that there are men who, for two and three generations, though possessing ample estates, have never once set foot in a public assembly.

This comes about because those who manage public affairs take great care and forethought for the people living in the countryside, so that justice may be administered to them on the spot and they may lack nothing for the necessities of life.

Chapter 74 Peace the Only Unquestioned Blessing

It seems to me that they devised and enacted all these arrangements in ancient times both because of the great extent of their land and, above all, because of the sacred manner of life they once enjoyed, when, having received from the Greeks a concession on account of the contest of the Olympic Games, they inhabited Elis as a land sacred and inviolate, untouched by any terror or any circumstance of war. But afterward, when the dispute with the Arcadians over Lasion and the whole of Pisatis forced them to defend their territory and to change their ways of living, they no longer took even ordinary trouble to recover from the Greeks their ancient and ancestral immunity from pillage, but remained as they were—not, in my judgment at least, making correct provision for the future.

For consider: there is one thing that we all pray to the gods to obtain, and for the sake of which we endure anything in our longing to share in it—the one thing among our reckoned goods that is beyond all dispute among men—I mean peace. If, then, certain people who are able to acquire this from the Greeks, with justice and propriety and uncontested for all time, neglect it or treat something else as more important than it, how could they fail to seem, by common consent, to be blind to their own interest? “Yes, by Zeus,” someone may object, “but perhaps by such a manner of life they become an easy target for those who set out to make war and to violate treaties.”

Yet such a thing is rare, and even if it should ever occur, it would be eligible for the common protection of the Greeks.

And as for the lesser, particular injustices, given the means that would have accrued to their estates—as would naturally be the case for people living always in peace—it is plain that they would not have lacked foreign troops and mercenaries to stand on guard at the various places and occasions.

As it is, fearing the rare and the unexpected, they hold their land and their livelihoods amid continual wars and devastations.

Let this, then, be said by us for the sake of admonishing the Eleans, since the circumstances of the times have never before offered a more favorable disposition than the present for them to acquire, by the agreement of all, their immunity from pillage.

Chapter 75 Capture of Thalamae

As for their country, as I said above, since some sparks, as it were, of the old custom still remain, the Eleans inhabit it to an exceptional degree. For this reason, during Philip's presence the number of those captured was vast, and still greater the number of those who had fled for refuge.

The greatest quantity of movable goods and the greatest throng of people and livestock had been gathered into the place they call Thalamae, because the country around it was narrow and hard to penetrate, and the place itself was inaccessible and difficult to approach.

When the king heard of the multitude that had taken refuge in the aforesaid place, and resolved to leave nothing untried or unfinished, he sent his mercenaries ahead to seize the spots that lay conveniently at the entrance, while he himself, leaving his baggage and the larger part of his force in the entrenched camp, took the peltasts and the light-armed troops and advanced through the narrow pass; and, with no one hindering him, he came up to the place.

The refugees, terrified at his onset—being, as they were, inexperienced and unprepared for any military need, and being moreover a confused rabble that had run together—quickly surrendered themselves; among them were also two hundred mixed mercenaries, whom Amphidamus, the general of the Eleans, had brought with him.

Philip, having become master of a great quantity of goods and of more than five thousand persons, and having in addition driven off an innumerable multitude of four-footed plunder, returned at that time to his camp.

But afterward, since his army was overloaded with spoils of every kind and had thereby become heavy and unwieldy, he withdrew on that account and marched back again to Olympia.

Chapter 76 Popularity of Philip In the Peloponnese

Now Apelles—who was one of the guardians of the boy left in charge by Antigonus, and who at that time happened to have more influence than anyone else with the king—wishing to bring the Achaean

nation into a condition like that of the Thessalians, set about doing a wicked thing.

For the Thessalians were thought to govern themselves by their own laws and to differ greatly from the Macedonians, but in fact they differed not at all: they suffered everything just as the Macedonians did and carried out every order given by the royal officials.

And so, fitting his action to this design, the man just mentioned set out to make trial of his fellow soldiers.

First, then, he permitted the Macedonians to evict from their quarters, on every occasion, those Achaeans who had taken possession of lodgings first, and likewise to strip them of their plunder.

After that, through his subordinates he laid hands on them on any chance pretext, and those who shared the others' indignation, or came to the aid of the men being flogged, he himself, being present, hauled off in chains, convinced that by such a method he would, little by little and unnoticed, bring them into the habit of regarding nothing as outrageous, whatever a man might suffer at the king's hands; and this although only a short time before he had campaigned alongside Antigonus and had seen that the Achaeans had endured the trial of every terror rather than do what Cleomenes commanded.

Nevertheless, when a group of young Achaeans banded together and approached Aratus and his circle and made clear to them the intention of Apelles, Aratus and his men went to Philip, having decided to take a stand on such matters from the outset and not to delay. And when they met with the king about these things, Philip, having heard out what had happened, encouraged the young men to take heart, assuring them that nothing of the kind would happen to them anymore, and ordered Apelles to impose no command on the Achaeans without the consent of their general.

Chapter 77 Phillidas and the Aetolian Troops Arrive

Philip, then, was winning a high reputation—both for his conduct in his dealings with the men who shared the open-field life of the camp, and for his action and daring in matters of war—not only among the soldiers serving with him, but among all the rest of the Peloponnesians as well.

For it would not be easy to find a king more abundantly furnished by nature with the resources needed for acquiring power.

He possessed, indeed, a keen intelligence, a strong memory, and an exceptional charm, and on top of these a kingly bearing and authority—and, most important of all, capacity and boldness in war.

But what it was that in the end overcame all these qualities, and turned a king of fine natural gifts into a savage tyrant, is not easy to explain in a few words. For that reason it will be more fitting to examine and work through these questions at some other occasion than the present one.

Philip, having broken camp at Olympia, took the road toward Pharae and came to Telphusa, and from there to Heraea. There he sold off the plunder as spoils, and set about repairing the bridge over the Alpheus, intending to make his invasion of Triphylia by that route.

At about this same time Dorimachus, the general of the Aetolians, in response to the appeal of the Eleans for help against the ravaging of their land, sent them six hundred Aetolians under the general Phillidas.

When Phillidas arrived in Elis, he took over the Elean mercenaries, who numbered about five hundred, and a thousand citizen soldiers, and along with these the Tarentine cavalry, and came to the relief of Triphylia.

This district has received its name from Triphylus, one of the sons of Arcas. It lies in the Peloponnese along the sea, between the territories of Elis and Messenia, faces toward the Libyan Sea, and forms the farthest edge of Arcadia in the direction of the winter sunset (the southwest).

It contains the following cities: Samicum, Lepreum, Hypana, Typaneae, Pyrgos, Aepium, Bolax, Stylangium, and Phrixa.

A short time before this the Eleans had gained control of these and had also annexed the city of the Aliphereans, which had originally belonged to Arcadia [and Megalopolis], after Lydiadas the Megalopolitan, during his tyranny, had handed it over to the Eleans in an exchange to serve certain private purposes of his own.

Chapter 78 Continued Success of Philip

Phillidas, however, sent the Eleans off to Lepreum and the mercenaries to Aliphera, while he himself, keeping the Aetolians with him at Typaneae, waited to see what would come of it.

The king, meanwhile, having set aside his baggage train and crossed the river Alpheus by the bridge—the river that flows right past the city of the Heraeans— came to Aliphera. This town lies on a hill that is sheer on every side, with an ascent of more than ten stades, and it has a citadel on the very summit of the whole hill, together with a bronze statue of Athena, outstanding in beauty and size.

As for this statue—from what intention or with what funding the work was first undertaken—it happens to be a matter of dispute even among the local people, for it cannot be clearly established either from where or by whom it was dedicated.

The finished work of art, however, is acknowledged by everyone to be among the most magnificent and skillfully executed of works, made by Hypatodorus and Sostratus.

Be that as it may, when a clear and bright day had dawned, the king at first light drew up at several points the men carrying the scaling ladders, with the supporting detachments of mercenaries stationed

in front of them, and, posting the Macedonians divided up behind each of these forces, gave orders to all, the moment the sun came up, to advance against the hill.

As the Macedonians carried out the order with spirit and to terrifying effect, it came about that the Aliphereans kept rushing and running together against them to whatever spots they saw the Macedonians most closely approaching.

At this moment the king himself, with the most suitable men, climbed up unnoticed by way of certain cliffs to the suburb of the citadel.

When the signal had been given, all at once set their ladders against the walls and made their attempt on the city.

The king was the first to seize the suburb of the citadel, finding it deserted. As this was being set ablaze, the men defending the walls, foreseeing what was about to happen and terrified that, if the citadel were seized first, they would be robbed of their last hope as well, abandoned the walls and rushed to flee toward the acropolis.

When this happened, the Macedonians at once gained control of both the walls and the city.

After this the men on the citadel sent envoys to Philip, and he, granting them safe conduct, took possession of it too by agreement.

Chapter 79 Surrender of Typanae and Phigalia

When these things had been accomplished, all the people throughout Triphylia were struck with alarm and began to deliberate about their own safety and that of their respective home cities.

Phillidas, for his part, abandoned Typanae—after first plundering some of the houses there—and withdrew to Lepreum.

This, indeed, was the kind of reward that the allies of the Aetolians regularly received at that time: not only to be openly deserted at the moments of greatest need, but, on top of that, to be plundered or betrayed and so to suffer at the hands of their own allies precisely what is the due lot of those defeated by an enemy.

The people of Typanae handed their city over to Philip, and the inhabitants of Hypana did much the same.

At the same time, the people of Phigalia—hearing of what had happened throughout Triphylia and being discontented with the alliance with the Aetolians—seized, in arms, the area around the polemarchium.

The Aetolian pirates who were lingering in this city for the sake of the plunder to be had from Messenia were at first able to lay hands on the Phigalians and bully them; but when they saw the

citizens gathering with one accord to defend themselves, they gave up the attempt, came to terms, took up their own belongings, and departed from the city.

The Phigalians then sent an embassy to Philip and put themselves and their city into his hands.

Chapter 80 The People of Lepreum Evict the Garrisons

While these affairs were still in progress, the people of Lepreum seized a certain quarter of their city and demanded that the Eleans, the Aetolians, and likewise the troops from the Spartans evacuate both the citadel and the city—for a relief force had come to them from the Spartans as well.

At first Phillidas and his men paid no heed but stayed put, expecting to overawe those in the city; but when the king dispatched Taurion with soldiers to Phigalia and himself advanced toward Lepreum, drawing close to the city, Phillidas and his men, realizing the situation, were cowed, while the Lepreates were further emboldened in their resolve.

It was indeed a fine feat that the Lepreates accomplished: although there were within the walls a thousand Eleans, a thousand Aetolians together with the pirates, five hundred mercenaries, and two hundred Spartans, and although the citadel was held by these troops, they nonetheless made a stand for their own homeland and refused to give up their hopes.

Phillidas, seeing the Lepreates holding their ground like men and the Macedonians drawing near, withdrew from the city along with the Eleans and the troops from the Spartans.

So the Cretans sent by the Spartans returned home through Messenia, while Phillidas and his men made their retreat in the direction of Samicum. The mass of the Lepreates, now in control of their homeland, sent out ambassadors to put their city into Philip's hands.

The king, on hearing what had happened, sent the rest of his force on to Lepreum, but took the peltasts and the light-armed troops and led them himself, eager to catch up with Phillidas and his men.

He overtook them and gained possession of all their baggage, but Phillidas and his men hurried on and managed to slip into Samicum.

Encamping before the place and bringing up the rest of his force from Lepreum, he made it appear to those inside that he intended to besiege the position.

The Aetolians, together with the Eleans, having nothing ready for withstanding a siege except their bare hands, were dismayed at their predicament and entered into talks with Philip about their safety.

Having obtained permission to march out under arms, they set off for Elis; and the king at once became master of Samicum.

After this, when the other towns also came over to him bearing the suppliant's olive branch, he took over Phrixa, Stylangium, Aepium, Bolax, Pyrgos, and Epitalium.

Having accomplished all this, he returned again to Lepreum, having brought all of Triphylia under his control in six days.

After exhorting the Lepreates as the occasion required and installing a garrison in the citadel, he set out with his army for Heraea, leaving Ladicus the Acarnanian as overseer of Triphylia.

On reaching the aforementioned city, he distributed all the spoils, then took up his baggage and, leaving Heraea, arrived at the height of winter at Megalopolis.

Chapter 81 Chilon's Fruitless Attempts In Sparta

At about this same time, while Philip was occupied with affairs in Triphylia, Chilon the Spartan—holding that the kingship belonged to him by right of birth, and bitterly resenting the slight that the Ephors had shown him in the decision regarding the kingship, when they awarded it to Lycurgus—set out to overturn the established order.

He reasoned that if he followed the same path as Cleomenes and held out to the common people the hope of land allotments and a redistribution of property, the masses would quickly fall in behind him; and so he launched into the enterprise.

Having conferred about the matter with his friends and won as many as two hundred men to share in the venture, he set about carrying his plan to completion.

But seeing that the greatest obstacle to his design was Lycurgus and the Ephors who had conferred the crown upon him, he directed his first attack against these men.

He caught the Ephors at dinner and slaughtered every one of them on the spot—Fortune thus exacting from them the penalty they had earned; for whether one considers the man at whose hands, or the man on whose account, they suffered this fate, one would have to admit that they suffered it justly.

After finishing with these men, Chilon went to the house of Lycurgus and found him inside, but was unable to lay hold of him.

For Lycurgus was smuggled out by some of his neighbors and slipped away unnoticed. He then withdrew by back-country tracks to the place in Tripolis called Pellene.

Chilon, having been foiled in the most crucial point of his attempt, was thoroughly dispirited, yet he was forced nonetheless to press on with what he had begun.

So he burst into the marketplace, laid violent hands on his enemies, appealed to his kinsmen and friends, and held out to the rest the hopes just described.

But when no one paid him any heed, and the people instead began to band together against him, he grasped what was happening, slipped away in secret, and making his way across the country arrived alone in Achaea, an exile. As for the Spartans, terrified at the approach of Philip, they cleared away

everything from the countryside, and after demolishing the Athenaeum of the Megalopolitans, abandoned it.

So then the Spartans— who from the time of Lycurgus's legislation had enjoyed a most admirable constitution and held very great power down to the battle of Leuctra, but then Fortune turned against them, their political condition steadily and ever more sliding toward the worse— in the end experienced a great many hardships and civil factions, struggled through countless redistributions of land and banishments, and tasted the most bitter servitude down to the tyranny of Nabis; they who in former days could scarcely bear to hear even the word "tyrant."

Now the ancient history of Sparta, and most of its later history, has been recounted by many writers on both sides of the question. But the clearest part of it begins from the point at which Cleomenes utterly abolished the ancestral constitution; and this I shall relate at the appropriate moments as they arise.

Chapter 82 Intrigue of Apelles Against Aratus

Philip, breaking camp from Megalopolis and marching by way of Tegea, arrived at Argos, where he spent the remainder of the winter, having won admiration beyond his years both for his general conduct and for his achievements in the campaigns described above.

Apelles, however, even so did not abandon his scheme, but was bent on bringing the Achaeans gradually under the yoke.

Seeing that Aratus and his circle stood in the way of such a design, and that Philip listened to them— and especially to the elder Aratus, both because of his earlier connection with Antigonus and because he wielded the greatest influence among the Achaeans, and above all because of the man's resourcefulness and good sense—he set about working against them and scheming in something like the following way.

Investigating who the political opponents of Aratus were, he drew each of them out from their cities, and once he had them in his grasp he flattered them and urged them into friendship with himself.

He also presented them to Philip, pointing out to him at every turn that, if he followed Aratus, he would have to deal with the Achaeans according to the written terms of the alliance; but that if he listened to Apelles and took on friends of this sort, he would be able to handle all the Peloponnesians as he pleased.

He also at once threw himself into the matter of the elections, wanting to secure the office of strategus for one of his own party and to drive Aratus and his people out of their position of power.

For these reasons he persuaded Philip to come to the Achaean elections at Aegium, on the pretext that he was at the same time making his way toward Elis.

The king having agreed, Apelles was present himself at the critical moment, and partly by entreaty, partly by intimidation, he barely managed it—but in the end he prevailed in having Eperatus of Pharae made strategus, and in having Timoxenus, the candidate put forward by Aratus and his circle, rejected.

Chapter 83 Philip Captures the Wall

After this the king broke camp and, marching by way of Patrae and Dyme, came to the fortress called the Wall, which lies on the frontier of the territory of Dyme; this had been seized a short time before, as I mentioned earlier, by Euripidas and his men.

Eager to recover it for the Dymaeans by any means, he encamped before it with his whole army.

The Elean garrison, struck with alarm, surrendered the fortress to Philip—a place not large, but exceptionally well fortified: for its circumference was no more than a stade and a half, while the height of its wall was nowhere less than thirty cubits.

Having handed it over to the Dymaeans, he advanced and ravaged the territory of the Eleans; and after devastating it and carrying off a great quantity of plunder, he returned with his army to Dyme.

Chapter 84 Aratus Defends Himself

Meanwhile Apelles, supposing that he had accomplished part of his purpose now that the Achaean strategus had been installed through his own efforts, again set to work against Aratus and his circle, wishing to detach Philip entirely from his friendship with them. He set about fabricating his slander by means of a contrivance of the following kind.

Amphidamus, the strategus of the Eleans, who had been captured at Thalamae together with those who had taken refuge there—as we related earlier concerning these events—when he arrived at Olympia, brought along with the other prisoners, made urgent efforts through certain intermediaries to obtain an interview with the king.

Having secured this, he stated that he was able to bring the Eleans over into friendship and alliance with the king. Philip, convinced, sent Amphidamus off without ransom, instructing him to promise the Eleans that, if they chose friendship with him, he would return all their captives without ransom, would himself guarantee the security of their territory against every outside attack, and besides this would preserve them free, ungarrisoned, exempt from tribute, and governed by their own institutions.

The Eleans, however, when they had heard these terms, paid them no heed, attractive and substantial though the offers seemed to be.

Apelles then, fashioning his slander out of this affair, brought it before Philip, claiming that Aratus and his circle did not bear genuine friendship toward the Macedonians, nor were they truly well disposed

toward the king; for it was they who had been responsible even now for the estrangement of the Eleans.

He alleged that at the very time when the king dispatched Amphidamus from Olympia to Elis, these men had taken the fellow aside privately and worked on him, telling him that it was in no way to the advantage of the Peloponnesians for Philip to become master of the Eleans; and that for this reason the Eleans had spurned all the offers made to them, choosing instead to keep up their friendship with the Aetolians and to persist in their war against the Macedonians.

Chapter 85 Apelles Repeats his Accusation to Aratus Before Philip

At first Philip, having accepted these arguments, ordered that Aratus and his party be summoned, and that Apelles state these same charges in their presence.

When they had arrived, Apelles repeated what he had said before, boldly and in a menacing manner; and while the king still kept silent, he added something further of this kind:

“Since the king finds you, Aratus, so ungrateful and so utterly unreasonable, he has resolved to call the Achaeans together, to render an account of these matters before them, and then to withdraw again to Macedonia.”

But the elder Aratus took him up and urged Philip, as a general principle, never to believe anything that was said hastily or without examination, and that whenever some report reached him against one of his friends or allies, he should make a more careful investigation before accepting the slander; for such conduct was both kingly and advantageous in every respect.

Therefore he now demanded that, concerning the things alleged by Apelles, the king should summon those who had heard them, bring forward into the open the man who had reported them to him, and leave nothing undone of what was possible toward learning the truth, before making any statement about these matters to the Achaeans.

Chapter 86 Aratus is Cleared

The king was satisfied with what was said, and declared that he would not treat the matter lightly but would investigate it; and so for the time being the meeting was dissolved.

In the following days Apelles brought forward no proof of his allegations, while for Aratus and his party there occurred a coincidence of the following kind.

For the Eleans, at the time when Philip was ravaging their country, grew suspicious of Amphidamus and set out to arrest him and, after binding him, to send him off to Aetolia.

But he, perceiving their intention beforehand, withdrew at first to Olympia, and afterward, learning that Philip was occupied at Dyme with the disposal of the spoils, hurried to make his way across to

him.

So Aratus and his friends, when they heard that Amphidamus had been driven out of Elis and was present, were overjoyed—since they were conscious of no wrongdoing—and, approaching the king, urged that he ought to summon Amphidamus; for that man, to whom the words had been spoken, would know best about the charges and would make the truth plain, since he had fled from his home on Philip's account and now placed his hopes of safety, for the present, in the king.

Persuaded by these arguments, the king sent for Amphidamus and found that the accusation was false.

For this reason, from that day onward, he received and esteemed Aratus ever more and more, while toward Apelles he grew more distrustful; yet, being still held in the grip of his thorough regard for him, he was forced to overlook much of what Apelles did.

Chapter 87 Further Intrigues of Apelles

But Apelles in no way abandoned his purpose. Rather, he set about slandering Taurion, who had been appointed over affairs in the Peloponnese— not by faulting him, but by praising him and asserting that he was the right man to spend his time in the field at the king's side; his real aim being to have someone else, of his own choosing, set over affairs in the Peloponnese.

For this is indeed a novel kind of slander that has been devised: to injure those around one not by blaming them, but by praising them.

And such malice, spite, and cunning have been invented above all and first by those who pass their lives about the courts, springing from their jealousy and greed toward one another.

In the same way he also kept biting at Alexander, who had been appointed over the king's personal attendants, whenever he found an opportunity, wishing both to bring the guard of the king's person under his own control and, in general, to overturn the arrangement left in place by Antigonus.

For Antigonus, while he lived, presided nobly over both the kingdom and his son, and at his death he likewise made good provision beforehand, with respect to the future, for all his affairs.

For he left a will in which he wrote to the Macedonians about how matters had been administered, and likewise gave instructions about the future—how and through whom each thing was to be handled—wishing to leave no occasion for the courtiers to engage in rivalry and faction with one another.

Among those who were then on campaign with him, Apelles himself had been left as one of the guardians, Leontius over the peltasts, Megaleas over the secretariat, Taurion over affairs in the Peloponnese, and Alexander over the king's personal attendants.

Now Leontius and Megaleas he had wholly under his own control, but Alexander and Taurion he sought to remove from their posts, eager to manage both these offices and all the others through himself and his own friends.

And this he would easily have accomplished, had he not raised up Aratus as an adversary to himself; but as it was, he quickly got a taste of his own folly and greed.

For the very thing he set out to do against those around him, this he himself suffered, and that in a very short time indeed.

But how and in what manner this came to pass we shall postpone for the present, and shall bring this book to a close; in what follows we shall try to report clearly on each of these events.

Philip, having made the arrangements described above, returned to Argos, and there spent the winter quarters with his friends, while he dismissed his forces to Macedonia.

Book V

The clash of African and Indian war elephants at the Battle of Raphia (217 BC). Book V, 82–86.

Chapter 1 The Situation in the Summer of 218 BC

The year of office held by the younger Aratus had reached its end about the rising of the Pleiades; for that was how the Achaean people reckoned time in those days.

So he laid down his office, and Eperatus took over the leadership of the Achaeans. Dorimachus was general of the Aetolians.

At the same time, as summer was beginning, Hannibal, now openly committed to war against Rome, set out from New Carthage, crossed the Ebro River, and began his advance and march into Italy.

The Romans, meanwhile, were sending Tiberius Sempronius to Libya with a force, and Publius Cornelius to Iberia.

Antiochus and Ptolemy, having given up on embassies and on settling their dispute over Coele-Syria by negotiation, began making war on one another.

King Philip, being short of grain and money for his forces, summoned the Achaeans to an assembly through their magistrates.

When the people had gathered at Aegium according to law, he saw that Aratus and his supporters were holding back out of resentment because of the mischief worked against them by Apelles and his circle during the elections, while Eperatus was by nature ineffective and held in contempt by everyone.

Reflecting on what had already happened, and on the poor judgment of Apelles and Leontius, he decided once again to align himself with Aratus and his party.

So he persuaded the magistrates to transfer the assembly to Sicyon. Then he took both the elder Aratus and the younger Aratus aside, placed all the blame for what had happened on Apelles, and urged them to remain committed to the policy they had adopted from the beginning.

They readily agreed. Philip then entered the Achaean assembly and, with the help of the men just mentioned, secured every measure needed for his purpose.

It was decreed that the Achaeans should give him fifty talents at once for his first mobilization, and with it to provide three months' pay for the army, and to add tens of thousands of measures of grain.

After that, for as long as he remained in the Peloponnese and campaigned as their ally, he was to receive seventeen talents each month from the Achaeans.

Chapter 2 Philip Decides to Fight at Sea

After these measures had been approved, the Achaeans dispersed to their cities. The king, after consulting with his friends, decided, once the forces had come together from winter quarters, to wage the war by sea.

He was convinced that only in this way would he be able to appear quickly against the enemy at every point, while his opponents would be least able to come to one another's aid, since they were separated by their territories and each would be anxious for his own safety because of the uncertainty and speed with which an enemy could arrive by sea. For he was at war with the Aetolians, the Spartans, and the Eleans as well.

Once this decision had been made, he assembled both the Achaean ships and his own at Lechaeum, and by repeatedly putting out to sea he trained the phalanx troops and got them used to the oars, the Macedonians responding eagerly to every order he gave.

For in the dangers of pitched battle on land they are the bravest of men, and for the demands of service at sea when circumstances require it they are the readiest; and in trench-digging, palisade-building, and every hardship of that sort they are exceptionally hardworking, the kind of men Hesiod depicts in the sons of Aeacus:

delighting in war as in a feast.

So the king and the mass of the Macedonians remained at Corinth, occupied with training and preparation for fighting at sea.

But Apelles, unable either to control Philip or to endure being disregarded and reduced in influence, formed a conspiracy with Leontius and Megaleas. The agreement was that those two, by remaining on the spot at the critical moment, should deliberately neglect matters and damage the king's operations, while Apelles himself would withdraw to Chalcis and see to it that no supplies reached him for his campaigns.

After making this arrangement and plotting maliciously with the men mentioned above, he left for Chalcis, having found some plausible excuses to offer the king.

By staying there, he kept his sworn agreement so firmly, and everyone obeyed him so completely because of the trust he had established earlier, that in the end the king was forced by shortage of funds to pawn pieces of silver plate needed for his own use and maintain himself from that source.

When the ships had assembled and the Macedonians were already trained at the oars, the king issued grain and pay to the army, put to sea, and on the second day came down to Patrae with six thousand Macedonians and twelve hundred mercenaries.

Chapter 3 Philip In Cephallenia

At the same time Dorimachus, the Aetolian general, sent Agelaus and Scopas to the Eleans with five hundred Neo-Cretans. The Eleans, fearing that Philip might move to besiege Cyllene, were gathering mercenary troops, preparing their citizen forces, and carefully fortifying Cyllene as well.

Seeing this, Philip gathered the Achaean mercenaries, some of the Cretans serving with him, some of the Gallic cavalry, and along with them about two thousand picked infantry from Achaea, and left them in the city of Dyme, both as a reserve force and as an advance guard against danger from Elis.

He himself had already written to the Messenians and the Epirotes, and also to the Acarnanians and Scerdilaidas, instructing each of them to man whatever ships they had and meet him in Cephallenia. Then he sailed out from Patrae according to the agreed plan and put in at Cephallenia near Pronnoi.

But when he saw that the little town there was difficult to besiege and that the country was narrow, he sailed past with the fleet and anchored near the city of the Paleis.

Seeing that this district was rich in grain and capable of feeding an army, he landed his forces and encamped beside the city. He drew the ships together at anchor, enclosed them with a trench and palisade, and sent the Macedonians out to collect provisions.

He himself went around the city, examining how it might be possible to bring siege works and engines against the wall, since he wanted both to wait for the allies and to take the city, first so as to deprive the Aetolians of their most useful support—for it was by using the ships of the Cephallenians that they made crossings into the Peloponnese and ravaged the coasts of Epirus and Acarnania— and second so as to secure for himself and his allies a naturally well-placed base of operations against enemy territory.

For Cephallenia lies along the Corinthian Gulf, stretching out toward the Sicilian Sea, and faces the parts of the Peloponnese that slope toward the north and west, especially the territory of Elis, and also the parts of Epirus, Aetolia, and Acarnania that look toward the south and west.

Chapter 4 Philip Besieges Palus

That is why, since the island was well suited both for gathering his allies and, by its position, for operations against enemy territory and for the protection of friendly land, he was eager to master it and bring it under his control.

Observing that all the other sides of the city were enclosed either by the sea or by cliffs, but that there was one small stretch of level ground on the side facing Zacynthus, he decided to bring up his siege works there and to concentrate the entire siege on that point.

The king was occupied with these matters. At this time fifteen light vessels arrived from Scerdilaidas—for he had been prevented from sending most of them because of plots and disturbances among the local dynasts in Illyria— and the allied contingents assigned from Epirus, Acarnania, and Messenia arrived as well.

For after the capture of Phigalia, the Messenians no longer had any excuse, and from that point onward they took part in the war.

When the preparations for the siege were ready, the king stationed the missile troops and stone-throwers in suitable positions to keep the defenders from resisting effectively, encouraged the Macedonians, brought the siege engines up to the walls, and under their cover began the mining.

The Macedonians worked with such eagerness that a section of the wall two plethra long was soon left hanging. Then the king approached the walls and urged those inside the city to make peace with him.

When they paid no attention, he set fire to the supports and brought down the entire propped section of wall all at once.

Once this happened, he sent in first the peltasts under Leontius, drawn up in companies and ordered to force their way through the fallen masonry.

But Leontius and his men, keeping to the arrangement they had made with Apelles, three times in succession threw the young soldiers into confusion after they had crossed the breach, so that they failed to complete the capture of the city.

They had already corrupted the most prominent officers of the individual units, and they themselves, through deliberate neglect, showed cowardice at every stage.

In the end they were driven out of the city after receiving many wounds, although they could easily have overcome the enemy.

The king, seeing that the officers were acting cowardly and that many Macedonians had been wounded, abandoned the siege and took counsel with his friends about what to do next.

Chapter 5 Philip Invades Aetolia

At the same time Lycurgus had invaded Messenia, and Dorimachus, taking half the Aetolian forces with him, had set out for Thessaly, both men being convinced that this would draw Philip away from the siege of Palaea.

On this matter envoys came to the king both from the Acarnanians and from the Messenians. The Acarnanians urged him to invade Aetolian territory, to force Dorimachus to abandon his advance against Macedonia, and then to overrun and plunder all Aetolia without fear.

The envoys from Messenia begged him to come to their aid, explaining that since the annual winds had now set in, the crossing from Cephallenia to Messenia could be made in a single day.

Therefore Gorgus of Messenia and his associates argued that an attack on Lycurgus would be sudden and effective.

Leontius and his party, keeping to their own design, strongly supported Gorgus and his friends, since they believed that Philip's summer campaign would come to nothing.

For it was easy enough to sail to Messenia, but impossible to sail back from there while the Etesian winds were blowing.

So it was clear that Philip would be shut up in Messenia with his army and forced to remain inactive for the rest of the summer, while the Aetolians would roam through Thessaly and Epirus, sacking and plundering the whole country without danger.

Such were the destructive schemes and counsels these men were offering. But Aratus, who was present, championed the opposite view.

He said Philip ought to sail to Aetolia and make that the focus of operations; for with the Aetolians campaigning abroad under Dorimachus, this was the best possible moment to invade and ravage Aetolia. The king, already distrusting Leontius because of his deliberate slackness during the siege, and recognizing in these discussions about the voyage the same malicious maneuvering, decided to follow Aratus's advice.

Accordingly he wrote to Eperatus, the Achaean general, ordering him to take the Achaeans and help the Messenians, while he himself sailed from Cephallenia and on the second day reached Leucas by night with the fleet.

After making the necessary arrangements at the channel called the Dioryctus and getting his ships through there, he sailed into what is called the Ambracian Gulf.

This gulf stretches far inland from the Sicilian Sea into the interior of Aetolia, as I have already said.

After traversing it and anchoring shortly before daybreak near the place called Limnaea, he ordered the soldiers to eat breakfast and, leaving behind most of their baggage, to make themselves ready to march lightly equipped.

He himself gathered the guides and questioned them closely about the country and the neighboring towns.

Chapter 6 Aristophantus the Acarnanian Joins Forces with Philip

At this time Aristophantus the general arrived, bringing the Acarnanians in full force. Because they had suffered many terrible wrongs from the Aetolians in earlier years, they were eager to avenge themselves in every possible way and to harm the Aetolians.

So they gladly seized this chance of Macedonian support and came under arms, not only those whom the law required to serve, but even some older men as well.

The Epirotes were no less eager for similar reasons; but because of the size of their country and the suddenness of Philip's arrival, they were too late to gather in time.

Of the Aetolians, as I said, Dorimachus had marched out with half their force, while he had left the other half behind, thinking this reserve sufficient to meet any unexpected attack on their cities and countryside.

The king left an adequate guard over the baggage, marched out from Limnaea in the evening, and after advancing about sixty stades made camp.

After supper and a short rest for the army, he set out again, and marching continuously through the night reached the river Achelous just as day was breaking, between Conope and Stratus, eager to strike suddenly and unexpectedly at the district of Thermus.

Chapter 7 A Rapid March To Thermus

Leontius and his party saw, in two ways, that Philip was likely to achieve his purpose and that the Aetolians would be unable to deal with the situation: first, because the arrival of the Macedonians had been swift and unexpected; and second, because the Aetolians would never suppose that Philip would dare so readily to expose himself by moving against Thermus, given the strength of the country there. So they were bound to be caught off guard and wholly unprepared for what was happening.

With this in mind, and still keeping to their own purpose, Leontius and his friends thought Philip ought to encamp by the Achelous and let the army recover from the night march, since they were eager to allow the Aetolians even a brief chance to rally to the defense.

But Aratus and his party, seeing that the opportunity for attack was fleeting and that Leontius was plainly trying to obstruct the operation, protested strongly and urged Philip not to let the moment pass or lose time in delay.

The king accepted their advice and, now already offended with Leontius, kept the army marching without interruption.

After crossing the river Achelous, he pressed on hard toward Thermus; and as he advanced he also laid waste and devastated the country.

On his left he passed by Stratus, Agrinium, and the land of the Thestians; on his right, Conope, Lysimachia, Trichonium, and Phytaeum.

When he came to the town called Metapa, which lies on Lake Trichonis itself and beside the narrow pass along it, about sixty stades from the place called Thermus, he found that the Aetolians had abandoned it; so he brought in five hundred soldiers and occupied it, intending to use it as a reserve post to secure both the entrance to and the exit from the pass.

For the whole stretch beside the lake is mountainous and rough, thickly covered with woods, and therefore the passage there is extremely narrow and hard to traverse.

After this he put the mercenaries at the head of the whole march, the Illyrians behind them, and then followed with the peltasts and the phalanx. The Cretans brought up his rear, while on the right the Thracians and light-armed troops moved parallel to him across the country.

For on the left the lake itself secured the line of march for nearly thirty stades.

Chapter 8 Thermus

After traversing the places just mentioned and reaching the village called Pamphia, he likewise secured this place with a garrison and advanced toward Thermus by a road that was not only steep and exceptionally rough, but also hemmed in on both sides by deep precipices, so that in some places the path was very dangerous and narrow, the whole ascent being nearly thirty stades.

Yet he covered this stretch too in a short time, because the Macedonians made the march with great energy.

He reached Thermus late in the day, and after pitching camp he let the army plunder the surrounding villages and sweep over the plain of Thermus; likewise they looted the houses in Thermus itself, which were full not only of grain and similar provisions, but also of the finest equipment and possessions belonging to the Aetolians.

For since every year their most notable markets and festivals, and also the appointments of magistrates, were held in this place, each person stored there the most splendid of his possessions for entertaining guests and for the preparations connected with those occasions.

Quite apart from their practical use, they also believed this place gave them the greatest security, because no enemy had ever yet dared to invade these districts, and because the natural character of the site made it, as it were, the acropolis of all Aetolia.

That is why, as the country had long enjoyed peace, the buildings around the sanctuary and all the surrounding places were full of abundant goods.

So that night they encamped there loaded with every kind of profit; but on the following day they picked out the most valuable furnishings and whatever could be transported, to carry off, while they piled the rest in heaps before the tents and burned it.

They treated in the same way the arms dedicated in the porticoes: the finest they took down and carried off, some they exchanged for their own, and the rest they gathered together and burned. These amounted to more than fifteen thousand.

Chapter 9 Plunder and Sacrilege At Thermus

Up to this point everything had been done properly and justly according to the laws of war; but what came after that, I do not know how one ought to describe.

For when they remembered what the Aetolians had done at Dium and Dodona, they set fire to the porticoes and destroyed the rest of the votive offerings, some of which were lavishly made and had been produced with great care and expense.

And they did not stop with damaging the roofs by fire, but pulled the buildings down to the ground. They also threw down the statues, no fewer than two thousand of them, and many they smashed to pieces, except for those that bore inscriptions or images of the gods; these they spared.

They also wrote on the walls the famous verse then in circulation, a sign that the cleverness of Samus was already beginning to show—Samus being the son of Chrysogonus and the king's foster-brother.

THE VERSE WAS:

"Do you see where the god's bolt flew?"

At this the king and his friends were greatly pleased with themselves, thinking that they were acting justly and as they should, paying back the Aetolians in kind for their impious conduct at Dium. But I think the exact opposite.

If my argument is right, anyone may judge the matter from examples taken not from elsewhere, but from the history of this very royal house.

When Antigonus won a pitched battle against Cleomenes, king of the Lacedaemonians, and gained possession of Sparta, though he had full power to do whatever he wished with the city and its inhabitants, he was so far from mistreating those who had fallen into his hands that, on the contrary, he restored their ancestral constitution and their freedom, and, after becoming the cause of the greatest benefits both publicly and privately to the Spartans, went back home.

Therefore he was judged not only at the time to be a benefactor, but after his death a savior, and he won immortal honor and glory not only among the Spartans but among all Greeks.

CHAPTER 10 The Present Philip Compared to his Ancestors

Such was the honor won by the men just mentioned. And indeed the first of them, Philip, who enlarged the kingdom and became the founder of the greatness of the house, after defeating the Athenians in the battle of Chaeronea accomplished his purpose not so much by force of arms as by the fairness and humanity of his character.

For by war and weapons alone he overcame only those drawn up against him and became master of them; but by good sense and moderation he brought all the Athenians together with their city under his influence.

He did not let anger dictate his actions, but fought and pressed the conflict only until he had gained the chance to display his own gentleness and nobility.

Therefore he sent the prisoners home without ransom, buried the Athenian dead, and even had Antipater carry back their bones; he also clothed most of those who were released. Thus by a small expense, through his intelligence, he achieved a very great success.

For by astonishing the pride of the Athenians with his magnanimity, he made them all eager to serve as his allies instead of his enemies.

And what of Alexander? Though he was so enraged with the Thebans that he sold the inhabitants into slavery and razed the city to the ground, even in taking the city he did not neglect reverence toward the gods.

On the contrary, he took the greatest care that no injury, even by accident, should be done to the temples or, generally, to the sacred precincts.

Again, when he crossed into Asia to avenge on the Persians their impiety toward the Greeks, he tried to exact from men a punishment worthy of what they had done, but kept his hands off everything dedicated to the gods, although this was precisely where the Persians had sinned most grievously in Greece.

These are the things Philip ought to have kept continually in mind at that time, and so to show himself the heir and successor of those men not so much in power as in purpose and magnanimity.

Yet while throughout his life he was very eager to appear a kinsman of Alexander and Philip, he paid not the slightest attention to being their imitator.

So by pursuing the very opposite course from those men, he came to have the opposite reputation among all as he grew older.

Chapter 11 Philip's Crime and Blunder

What happened then was one example of this. In his anger he joined in the Aetolians' acts of impiety, and, trying to cure evil with evil, he thought he was doing nothing out of place.

He used to denounce Scopas and Dorimachus at every turn for their lawlessness and outrage, citing their impiety toward the gods at Dodona and Dium; yet when he himself did much the same, he did not think that those who heard of it would judge him in the same way as them.

For stripping the enemy and destroying forts, harbors, cities, men, ships, crops, and the like—things by which one may weaken the opposition and strengthen one's own position and enterprises—these acts the laws and usages of war do indeed compel us to do.

But to ravage temples, and with them statues and every such adornment, when one is about to gain no help for one's own cause and bring no reduction upon the enemy in the present war—how could anyone fail to call that the act of a frenzied temper and a maddened spirit?

Good men ought not to wage war for the destruction and annihilation of those who have done wrong, but for the correction and reform of what has been done amiss. Nor should they destroy the innocent together with the guilty, but rather preserve the innocent and thereby save even those who seem to have done wrong.

It is the part of a tyrant to do harm and hold unwilling subjects in obedience through fear, while he hates them and is hated by those he rules; but it is the part of a king, by doing good to all, to lead and govern willing subjects, loved because of his beneficence and humanity.

One may best grasp Philip's mistake on that occasion by considering what impression the Aetolians would likely have had if he had done the opposite of what I have described, and had destroyed neither the porticoes nor the statues nor mistreated any of the offerings.

For my own part, I think their reaction would have been the best and most humane possible: conscious of what they themselves had done at Dium and Dodona, and clearly seeing that Philip at that moment had complete power to do whatever he wished, and that if he had inflicted the harshest measures he would have seemed justified, at least as far as they were concerned—

—yet by his own gentleness and greatness of spirit he chose not to imitate their conduct in any respect.

Chapter 12 Philip Should Not Receive All the Blame

From this it is clear that they would probably have condemned themselves, while approving and admiring Philip for acting in a kingly and magnanimous way, showing both reverence toward the gods and anger against the Aetolians.

And indeed, overcoming one's enemies by nobility and justice brings no less advantage—rather more—than successes won by force of arms.

In the one case the defeated yield from necessity; in the other they submit by deliberate choice. The former kind of victory corrects wrongdoing only through heavy losses, whereas the latter turns those who have gone astray to the better course without harm.

And most important of all, in the one case most of the achievement belongs to the troops under command, whereas in the other the victory is wholly the leaders' own.

Still, perhaps one should not lay all the blame for what happened then on Philip himself, because of his youth, but mostly on the friends who were with him and assisted in the business, among whom were Aratus and Demetrius of Pharos.

And about these men it is not difficult to say, even without having been present at the time, from which of the two such advice was likely to have come.

For apart from the settled character each showed throughout life—where in Aratus one would find nothing rash or ill-considered, but in Demetrius the opposite—we also have a generally acknowledged example revealing the disposition of each in the similar advice they gave Philip.

When the proper occasion comes, I will make the appropriate mention of this.

Chapter 13 The Return From Thermus

Philip—for I had digressed from this point—took from Thermus as much plunder as could be carried away, whether driven or borne, and advanced by the same route on which he had come, placing the booty and the heavily armed troops in front, and leaving the Acarnanians and the mercenaries in the rear.

He was eager to get through the difficult ground as quickly as possible, because he expected that the Aetolians, trusting in the strength of the terrain, would attack his rear.

And that is exactly what happened at once. For the Aetolians had come up to help and had gathered in a force of nearly three thousand. As long as Philip remained on the heights they did not come near, but stayed concealed in certain hidden places under the command of Alexander of Trichonium. But as soon as the rear began to move, they immediately burst into Thermus and pressed hard on the last men in the column.

As confusion arose around the rear, the Aetolians attacked with even greater boldness and came to close quarters, relying on the ground.

But Philip, having foreseen what would happen, had posted the Illyrians and the most effective of his peltasts under cover of a certain hill on the descent.

When these men rose up against the attackers and charged the enemy who had pushed too far forward, the rest of the Aetolians were forced to flee headlong over pathless ground. A hundred and thirty were killed, and only slightly fewer were taken prisoner.

After winning this advantage, the troops in the rear burned Pamphium and, passing safely through the narrow defile, rejoined the Macedonians.

For Philip had encamped near Metapa and was there waiting for the men from the rear to come up. The next day he razed Metapa and advanced, encamping near the city called Acrae.

On the following day, as he advanced, he ravaged the countryside and, after encamping near Conope, remained there through the next day.

On the day after that he broke camp again and marched along the Achelous as far as Stratus.

Chapter 14 Skirmish at Stratus

After crossing the river, he drew up his force out of missile range, to test those inside the city. For he had learned that about three thousand Aetolian infantry, around four hundred cavalry, and as many as five hundred Cretans had gathered in Stratus.

Since no one dared to come out against him, he set the van in motion again and continued the march toward Limnaea and the ships.

But as soon as the rear had passed the city, at first a few of the Aetolian horsemen rode out and began harassing the last ranks.

Then, when the whole body of the Cretans came out from the city and some Aetolian troops joined their cavalry, the engagement became more serious, and the men in the rear were forced to turn and fight for their lives.

At first the danger was evenly balanced for both sides. But when the Illyrians came up in support of Philip's mercenaries, the Aetolian cavalry and mercenaries gave way and fled in scattered disorder.

The king's troops pursued most of them as far as the gates and the walls, and killed about a hundred.

After this action, the troops from the city kept quiet from then on, and the men from the rear reached the camp and the ships safely.

Philip, having pitched camp early in the day, offered thank-offerings to the gods for the success of his undertaking, and at the same time summoned the commanders because he wished to entertain them all at dinner.

For he thought that he had committed himself to hazardous country of a kind into which no one had ever before dared to lead an army and make camp.

Yet he had not only entered it with his force, but, after accomplishing everything he had intended, had also made his return in safety. For these reasons he was in high spirits as he prepared to receive the commanders.

But Megaleas and Leontius took the king's success badly, since they had joined with Apelles in trying to obstruct all his operations, yet had been unable to do so.

Instead, events were turning out exactly the opposite of what they wanted, and they were plainly being proved wrong. Nevertheless, they came to the dinner.

Chapter 15 Megaleas and Crinon Fined

From the very beginning they aroused suspicion in the king and the others by not sharing the joy over what had happened as fully as everyone else did.

As the drinking went on, and then became untimely and excessive, they were forced to go along with the rest, and quickly revealed what they really were.

For when the gathering broke up, driven on by drunkenness and want of self-control, they went about looking for Aratus.

When they met him on his way back, at first they abused him, and then they tried to stone him.

As more people came running up on both sides, there was shouting and disturbance throughout the camp. Hearing the uproar, the king sent men to find out what had happened and put an end to the disorder.

When they arrived, Aratus explained what had taken place and produced the men who were present as witnesses, and so withdrew from this outrage to his own tent.

Leontius somehow slipped away in the confusion without thinking. But the king sent for Megaleas and Crinon, and when he learned what had happened, he rebuked them sharply.

They not only refused to submit, but answered back, declaring that they would not stop until they had made the men around Aratus pay for it.

The king, angered by this language, immediately required them to post security for a fine of twenty talents and ordered them to be taken into custody.

Chapter 16 Arrival at Leucas

On the next day he sent again for Aratus and told him to take heart, because he would settle the matter as far as circumstances allowed.

Leontius, when he learned what had happened to Megaleas, came to the king's tent with some peltasts, convinced that by overawing the king because of his youth he would quickly make him change his mind.

When he met him, he demanded to know who had dared to lay hands on Megaleas and who had dared to lead him off to prison.

But when the king answered firmly that he himself had given the order, Leontius was taken aback, let out some cry of vexation, and went away in anger.

The king then put to sea with the whole fleet, crossed the gulf, and as soon as he had anchored at Leucas he instructed the officers appointed to manage the spoil not to delay in carrying out that business; then he gathered his friends and brought the case of Megaleas to judgment.

Aratus, in his speech for the prosecution, set out from the beginning the conduct of Leontius and his circle, going through the massacre they had committed at Argos after the departure of Antigonus, their agreements with Apelles, and also the obstruction they had caused in the affair of the Paleis.

As he presented all this with proof and witnesses, Megaleas and his associates were unable to answer a single point, and were unanimously condemned by the king's friends.

Crinon remained in custody, while Leontius went surety for Megaleas' money penalty.

So this was the outcome of the scheme of Apelles and Leontius, its course now turning back in the opposite direction from what they had hoped at first.

For they thought that by frightening Aratus and isolating Philip they would be able to do whatever seemed advantageous to themselves; but the result was exactly the reverse.

Chapter 17 Philip Comes to Corinth

About this time Lycurgus returned from Messenia, having accomplished nothing worth mentioning there. Afterward he set out again from Sparta and seized the city of the Tegeans.

But when the inhabitants withdrew into the citadel, he undertook to besiege it. Since he was unable to make any progress at all, he once more withdrew to Sparta.

The Eleans made a raid into the territory of Dyme, and by drawing into an ambush the cavalry who had come to help, they routed them easily.

They killed quite a number of the Gallic troops, and among the citizens they took prisoner were Polymedes of Aegium and the Dymaeans Agesipolis and Diocles.

Dorimachus had made his first expedition with the Aetolians because he was convinced, as I said above, that he could ravage Thessaly without danger to himself and would force Philip to raise the siege of the Paleis.

But when he found Chrysogonus and Petraeus ready in Thessaly to risk battle with him, he did not dare come down into the plain, and instead kept close to the foothills.

Then, when word reached him of the Macedonian invasion of Aetolia, he gave up his operations in Thessaly and hurried to go to their aid. But when he arrived and found that the Macedonians had already withdrawn from Aetolia, he was left behind and proved too late in every respect.

Meanwhile the king sailed from Leucas, ravaged the territory of the Oeantheans as he passed along the coast, and came down with his whole fleet to Corinth.

After mooring his ships at Lechaeum, he disembarked his troops and sent messengers to the allied cities in the Peloponnese, naming the day on which everyone was to be in Tegea with arms by nightfall.

Chapter 18 Philip Appears At Sparta

After making these arrangements and spending no time at all in Corinth, he gave the Macedonians orders to break camp. Marching by way of Argos, he reached Tegea on the second day.

There he took with him the Achaeans who had assembled and advanced by the mountain road, eager to enter Laconian territory without the Spartans noticing.

After going around through the deserted country, on the fourth day he came upon the hills opposite the city and passed along toward Amyclae itself, keeping the Menelaeum on his right.

The Spartans, watching from the city as the army moved along, were struck with panic and fear, marveling at what was happening.

For their minds were still unsettled by the reports that had come in about Philip's destruction of Thermus and, in general, about his actions in Aetolia; and there was even a rumor among them that Lycurgus would be sent out to aid the Aetolians.

But that the danger would come upon them so quickly from so great a distance had never entered any of their minds at all, especially since the king's youth made him seem in some measure easy to despise. So, because events were turning out contrary to all expectation, they were naturally dumbfounded.

For Philip, handling his enterprises with more daring and more practical skill than one would expect from his age, reduced all his enemies to helplessness and confusion.

For, as I said above, he had sailed from the middle of Aetolia and crossed the Ambracian Gulf by night, then put in at Leucas.

He stayed there two days, and on the third, putting out before dawn, reached Lechaeum on the second day after that, ravaging the Aetolian coast as he sailed.

After this he continued his marches without interruption, and on the seventh day came upon the hills above the city near the Menelaeum, so that most people who saw what had happened could hardly believe it.

So the Spartans, thrown into fear by the unexpected nature of the event, were at a loss and in a difficult position for the moment.

Chapter 19 Philip Marches Through Laconia

Philip, on the first day, encamped around Amyclae.

Amyclae is a place in Laconia, richly wooded and very fruitful, about twenty stades from Sparta.

There is also there a sanctuary of Apollo, one of the most famous among the sacred places in Laconia. The place lies in the part of the country that slopes toward the sea from the city.

On the following day, ravaging the countryside as he went, he descended to the stockade called Pyrrhus.

After raiding and laying waste the neighboring districts for the next two days, he encamped near Carnium. Setting out from there, he marched on Asine; and after making assaults on it but accomplishing nothing of importance, he broke camp again. From that point on, as he continued his advance, he devastated all the country facing the Cretan Sea as far as Taenarum.

Then, changing direction once more, he marched past the Spartan naval station, which is called Gythium, has a secure harbor, and lies about two hundred and thirty stades from the city.

Leaving this on his right as he marched, he encamped near Helos, which, viewed as a district, is the largest and finest stretch of land in Laconia.

From there he sent out raiding parties and burned and devastated the whole region and destroyed the crops in it; and his foragers reached as far as Acriae and Leucae, and also the territory of Boeae.

Chapter 20 Philip's Return Opposed

When the Messenians received Philip's letters concerning the campaign, they were no less eager than the other allies in their initial zeal, but set out promptly and sent their men in the prime of life: two thousand infantry and two hundred cavalry.

But because of the length of the journey they were delayed and missed Philip at Tegea, and at first they were at a loss what they should do.

Then, anxious not to seem to be hanging back because of the suspicions previously entertained about them, they marched through Argolis into Laconia, wanting to join Philip.

When they reached a place called Glympes, which lies on the borders of Argolis and Laconia, they encamped there both awkwardly and carelessly.

For they neither dug a trench nor put up a palisade around their camp, nor did they choose a naturally advantageous site; instead, trusting in the goodwill of the people who lived in the place, they encamped unsuspectingly in front of its wall.

But when the arrival of the Messenians was reported to Lycurgus, he took his mercenaries and some of the Spartans, advanced to the place, and at daybreak boldly attacked their camp.

The Messenians had made bad decisions in every respect, and especially in marching out from Tegea without a force strong enough in numbers and without relying on experienced advisers; yet when the danger actually came upon them, they still did the best that circumstances allowed for their own safety.

For as soon as they saw the enemy appearing, they abandoned everything and rushed for refuge to the place.

As a result, Lycurgus got possession of most of the horses and the baggage, but he took not a single man alive, and of the cavalry he killed only eight.

So the Messenians, after meeting with this reverse, returned home again through Argos.

Lycurgus, elated by what had happened, went to Sparta, made his preparations, and conferred with his friends, determined not to let Philip get out of the country again without danger and a clash.

But the king, breaking camp from Helos, advanced while ravaging the country as he went, and on the fourth day again reached Amyclae with his whole army about midday.

Chapter 21 Lycurgus Goes Out to Resist

After giving instructions to the commanders and his friends about the coming danger, Lycurgus himself marched out of the city and occupied the ground around the Menelaeum, with no fewer than two thousand men in all.

He arranged with those in the city to keep watch, so that whenever he raised the signal they would quickly lead the troops out in front of the city from several points at once and draw them up facing the Eurotas, where the river comes nearest to the city.

Such were the measures of Lycurgus and the Spartans.

But lest unfamiliarity with the ground make what I say obscure and hard to follow, I should also explain the nature and arrangement of the place, which indeed is what I try to do throughout this work, always connecting places that are unknown and making them familiar by comparison with places already known and described.

For since in war, both on land and at sea, differences of terrain are what cause most successes and failures, and since we all want to know not merely what happened but how it happened, one must not neglect topographical description in any kind of narrative, least of all in military affairs, nor hesitate to use as points of reference at one time harbors, seas, and islands, and at another sanctuaries, mountains, named regions, and finally even the differences presented by the surrounding sky, since these are the most universal things shared by all human beings.

For only in this way, as I have said before, is it possible to bring listeners to an understanding of places they do not know.

The terrain in this case is as follows.

Chapter 22 Position of Sparta and Disposition of Troops

Sparta as a whole is circular in shape and lies on level ground, though in its several parts it includes uneven and hilly places of various kinds.

The river that runs past its eastern side is called the Eurotas, and for most of the year it is uncrossable because of its size.

So it happens that the hills on which the Menelaeum stands lie beyond the river, to the southeast of the city; they are rugged, hard to climb, exceptionally high, and they command the strip between the river and the city.

Through this strip the river just mentioned flows along the very foot of the hill, and the whole width there is no more than a stade and a half.

Through this Philip was necessarily obliged to make his return march, with the city and the Spartans, ready and drawn up for battle, on his left, and on his right the river and Lycurgus's men standing on the hills.

The Spartans had also devised the following in addition to these advantages: by damming the river upstream they diverted it into the ground between the city and the hills, and once that area had been soaked through, it was impossible for not only horses but even infantry to enter it.

So the only course left was to lead the army close under the foothills, thus exposing themselves to the enemy in a long marching column in which they could scarcely support one another.

Seeing this, Philip took counsel with his friends and decided that the most urgent necessity of the moment was first to drive Lycurgus and his men from the positions around the Menelaeum.

So he took the mercenaries and the peltasts, and with them the Illyrians as well, crossed the river, and advanced toward the hills.

Lycurgus, perceiving Philip's intention, prepared the troops with him and encouraged them for the coming danger, and he also gave the signal to those in the city.

When this was done, the magistrates responsible immediately led out the citizen troops according to the arrangement and drew them up in front of the wall, placing the cavalry on the right wing.

Chapter 23 Defeat of Lycurgus Near Sparta

When Philip came near Lycurgus's men, he first sent the mercenaries against them.

As a result, the Spartans had the advantage at the outset and fought with greater confidence, since both their equipment and the ground contributed greatly in their favor.

But when Philip brought up the peltasts to support those engaged, keeping them in reserve formation, and launched the Illyrians in a flank attack, the mercenaries under Philip, encouraged by the support

of the Illyrians and peltasts, were much more strongly emboldened for the fight, while Lycurgus's men, alarmed by the attack of the heavy-armed troops, gave way and fled.

About a hundred of them fell, and a little more than that number were taken prisoner; the rest escaped into the city. Lycurgus himself struck off by trackless routes and during the night made his way into the city with a few companions.

Philip occupied the hills with the Illyrians, and then, taking the light-armed troops and peltasts with him, returned to the main force.

At this time Aratus, leading the phalanx from Amyclae, had already come near the city.

So the king, after crossing the river, remained in support with the light-armed troops and peltasts, and also with the cavalry, until the heavy infantry had safely passed beneath the hills through the difficult ground.

When the troops from the city tried to attack the cavalry serving as the covering force, and the engagement became more general, the peltasts fought with courage.

And about this time Philip gained an acknowledged advantage, and after joining in the pursuit and chasing the Spartan cavalry to the gates, he then crossed the Eurotas safely and brought up the rear of his phalanx.

Chapter 24 Philip Proceeds to Tegea

As the day was already drawing on, he was forced to encamp where he was, so he made camp near the exit from the pass, his officers having by chance chosen such a place as no one could have found a better for making an invasion into Laconia right by the city itself.

For at the beginning of the pass just mentioned, when one approaches Sparta from Tegea or generally from the inland country, there is a place about two stades from the city and situated directly on the river.

Its side facing the city and the river is entirely enclosed by a great sheer cliff that is completely inaccessible; but the ground above these precipices is level, fertile, and well watered, and at the same time conveniently situated for the entrance and exit of forces.

So anyone encamped there and holding the hill above it would seem to be camping in safety because of the position relative to the city, and also in an excellent place, since he controlled the entrance and passage through the narrow defile.

Philip accordingly encamped there in safety, and on the next day sent the baggage on ahead, but drew up his army on the level ground where it was plainly visible to those in the city.

He remained there for a short time, and after that wheeled his line toward one flank and marched in the direction of Tegea.

When he reached the place where Antigonus and Cleomenes had joined battle, he encamped there.

On the following day, after inspecting the ground and sacrificing to the gods on each of the two hills, one called Olympus and the other Euas, he advanced, having strengthened his rearguard.

When he arrived at Tegea, he sold off all the booty, and after that marched through Argos and came with the army to Corinth.

While ambassadors from Rhodes and Chios were present there to discuss ending the war, he gave them audience and, pretending agreement, said that he was ready now as before to make peace with the Aetolians; then he sent them away, instructing them also to speak with the Aetolians about a settlement, while he himself went down to Lechaeum and made preparations for a voyage, since he had some more substantial operations to carry out in the region of Phocis.

Chapter 25 Leontius, Megaleas, and Ptolemy Rouse the Guard

At this time Leontius, Megaleas, and Ptolemy, still convinced that they could overawe Philip and in that way undo their earlier offenses, began spreading talk among both the peltasts and the unit the Macedonians call the agema.

They said that these men were risking everything, yet received none of what was justly theirs, nor did they get the full share of the advantages that custom assigned to them.

By this they stirred up the younger soldiers to gather together and try to plunder the quarters of the king's most prominent friends, to smash in the doors, and to hack away the roof tiles of the royal residence.

As this was happening, and the whole city had fallen into uproar and confusion, Philip heard of it and came running with all haste from Lechaeum into the city.

After gathering the Macedonians in the theater, he partly exhorted them and partly rebuked them all for what had happened.

There was loud shouting and great disorder: some thought the men responsible should be arrested and stoned, while others thought the matter should be settled and no grudge held against anyone.

So for the moment Philip pretended to be persuaded, urged them all to calm down, and withdrew. He knew perfectly well who the leaders of the disturbance were, but because of the circumstances he did not yet reveal it.

Chapter 26 Leontius Calls In Apelles

After this disturbance, the operations that had begun in Phocis met with certain delays.

Leontius and his associates, having lost hope in their own resources because none of their plans were succeeding, turned to Apelles for refuge and kept sending repeated messages calling him from Chalcis, explaining the embarrassment and difficulty they were in because of their quarrel with the king.

Now Apelles happened to be conducting himself in Chalcis with more authority than was proper for him.

For he represented the king as still a young man, mostly under his control and master of nothing, while he drew to himself the handling of affairs and power over everything.

Accordingly, the overseers and administrators from Macedonia and Thessaly made their reports to him, and the Greek cities, in their decrees and in the honors and gifts they voted, mentioned the king only briefly; in practice Apelles was everything to them.

Philip had long been hearing of this and had been indignant and offended by it, especially since Aratus was at his side and was actively working on the matter. Even so, he held himself in check and gave no one any clear sign of what direction he intended to take or what his mind was.

But Apelles, ignorant of his real position and convinced that if he only came into Philip's presence he would manage everything according to his own will, set out from Chalcis to support Leontius and his party.

When he arrived in Corinth, Leontius, Ptolemy, and Megaleas, who were commanders of the peltasts and of the other most distinguished divisions, made great efforts and urged the young men to go out to meet him.

So, because of the crowd of officers and soldiers who went out to receive him, his entry had an almost theatrical grandeur, and straight from the road he went to the royal quarters.

But when he wanted to go in, according to his former custom, one of the mace-bearers stopped him as he had been ordered to do, saying that the king was not available at a suitable time.

Astonished and perplexed for a long while by this unexpected treatment, Apelles at last turned back in dejection; and all the rest immediately and openly drifted away from him, so that in the end he went into his lodging with no one but his own attendants.

For brief turns of fortune, more than anything else, generally raise all men up and then cast them down again, but they do so most of all in the case of those who live at royal courts.

Such people really are like counters on an abacus: those counters, according to the will of the man reckoning with them, are at one moment worth a mere copper and the next a talent; and so those about a court, at a king's nod, are blessed one moment and pitiable the next.

Megaleas, seeing that the support he had expected through Apelles had turned out contrary to his hopes, was filled with fear and began thinking of flight.

Apelles, however, was still admitted to banquets and honors of that sort, but he took no part in deliberations or in the king's daily companionship.

In the following days the king again set sail from Lechaeum for operations in Phocis and took Apelles with him.

Chapter 27 Execution of Leontius

When the expedition failed, the king was on his way back from Elatea; and during this same time Megaleas withdrew to Athens, leaving Leontius bound as surety for the twenty talents.

But the generals in Athens would not receive him, so he went on again to Thebes.

The king put to sea from the region of Cirrha and sailed with the hypaspists to the harbor of the Sicyonians. From there he went up to the city, excused himself to the magistrates, took lodging with Aratus, and spent all his time with him, while ordering Apelles to sail to Corinth.

When reports about Megaleas reached him, he sent the peltasts, whose commander was Leontius, off to Triphylia with Taurion, on the pretext that some urgent business required it; and once they had departed, he gave orders to take Leontius into custody over the surety.

But when the peltasts realized what had happened, Leontius having sent someone to them, they dispatched envoys to the king, begging him that if Leontius had been arrested on some other charge, he should not conduct the trial on the accusations against him without them being present, otherwise they would all think that they themselves were being grossly slighted and implicitly condemned as well —for the Macedonians had always enjoyed this kind of frank speech with their kings— but if it was because of Megaleas's surety, then they themselves would raise the money by a common contribution and pay it.

The king, however, angered by the zeal shown by the peltasts, put Leontius to death more quickly than he had originally intended.

Chapter 28 Death of Megaleas

The ambassadors from Rhodes and Chios returned from Aetolia, having arranged a truce of thirty days and reporting that the Aetolians were ready for a settlement, and having fixed a definite day on which they asked Philip to meet them at Rhium, promising that the Aetolians would do everything required to conclude the peace.

Philip accepted the truce and wrote to the allies, instructing them to send to Patrae the men who were to sit in council and deliberate on a settlement with the Aetolians; he himself sailed from Lechaeum

and reached Patrae on the second day.

About this time some letters were forwarded to him from the region of Phocis, letters that Megaleas had been sending to the Aetolians, in which he urged them to take heart and remain in the war because Philip's situation was utterly desperate for lack of supplies. Besides this, the letters contained accusations against the king and bitterly hostile abuse.

When Philip read these and concluded that Apelles was the instigator of all the mischief, he at once placed him under guard and sent him off in haste to Corinth, together with his son and his favorite.

He also sent Alexander to Thebes after Megaleas, with orders to bring him before the authorities to answer for the surety.

When Alexander carried out the order, Megaleas did not have the nerve to face the proceedings, but laid hands on himself.

And about the same days Apelles too lost his life, along with his son and his favorite.

So these men met the ruin they deserved and passed from life, especially because of the outrageous treatment they had shown toward Aratus.

Chapter 29 Disturbed State of Achaea

The Aetolians, for their part, were eager to conclude peace because the war was weighing them down and events had gone in a way they had not expected.

For they had assumed that, because of Philip's youth and inexperience, they would be dealing with a mere child; instead they found him fully grown, not only in the boldness of his plans but in the way he carried them out, while they themselves showed how contemptible and childish they were in both the details and the overall conduct of the war.

And when news reached them of the uproar among the peltasts and of the deaths of Apelles and Leontius, they hoped that there was some great and serious disturbance at the royal court, and so they kept putting off the meeting until they had gone past the appointed day at Rhium.

Philip, however, gladly took advantage of this excuse, since he was confident of success in the war and had already decided not to accept any settlement. So he urged the allies who had come to meet him to prepare, not for peace, but for war, and then set sail again for Corinth.

He dismissed the Macedonian troops by way of Thessaly to spend the winter at home, while he himself sailed from Cenchreae, coasted along Attica, passed through the Euripus, and reached Demetrias. There he held Ptolemy, who was still the last surviving member of the conspiracy around Leontius, to account before a tribunal of Macedonians and had him executed.

At this same time Hannibal, having invaded Italy, was encamped opposite the Roman forces near the river called the Po. Antiochus, after subduing most of Coele-Syria, had once again dismissed his army into winter quarters, and Lycurgus, king of the Lacedaemonians, fled to Aetolia in alarm at the ephors.

For the ephors, acting on a false report that he was planning revolutionary action, gathered the young men and came by night to his house. But Lycurgus, having caught wind of what was happening, withdrew with his own household servants.

Chapter 30 Aratus Elected Strategus

When winter had come, Philip the king had returned to Macedonia, and Eperatus, the Achaean strategus, had fallen into contempt among the political young men and was altogether disregarded by the mercenaries; as a result, no one obeyed orders and nothing had been prepared for the defense of the country.

Pyrrhias, the Aetolian commander sent to the Eleans, saw this. He had with him thirteen hundred Aetolians and the mercenaries of the Eleans, together with a thousand Elean infantry and two hundred cavalry, making up a total force of three thousand.

With this army he kept ravaging not only the territory of Dyme and Pharae, but that of Patrae as well. Finally he camped on the mountain called Panachaeum, which rises above the city of Patrae, and laid waste the whole district sloping toward Rhium and toward Aegium.

As a result, the cities, already suffering and receiving no help, had some difficulty meeting their contributions; and the soldiers, because their pay was continually delayed and never given on time, behaved in the same way when it came to providing aid. Since both sides kept retaliating in this way, matters worsened steadily and in the end the mercenary force broke up altogether.

All this happened because the man in command was incompetent.

When the time for the election arrived with Achaean affairs in such a condition, Eperatus laid down his office, and at the beginning of summer the Achaeans appointed Aratus the elder as their strategus.

So this was the situation in Europe.

Now that I have reached the proper point both in the sequence of time and in the order of events, I shall move on to the affairs of Asia and once again narrate the events that took place there in the same Olympiad as those just described.

Chapter 31 Return to Narrative of the War in Coele-Syria

I shall now resume the account, and first I will attempt, in accordance with my original plan, to explain the war that arose between Antiochus and Ptolemy over Coele-Syria.

I do so fully aware that at the point where I left off in my Greek history, that war was already nearly settled and brought to an end; nevertheless, I have deliberately chosen this as the place to divide the narrative.

My reason is that I believe this arrangement will best keep readers from making mistakes about the dates of individual events, if I point out, as I go, the years within this Olympiad in which the events in each region of the world, and in Greece, began and ended.

For I am convinced that, if listeners are not to miss the exact dating of each event, it is enough to remind them of the beginnings and endings of each matter, and of the Olympiad years in which the Greek events occurred.

And I think that, for the sake of clarity, nothing is more important in this Olympiad than not mixing the different stories together, but separating and distinguishing them as far as possible, until we come to the next Olympiad and begin recording, year by year, the events that happened alongside one another.

For since I have chosen to write not a partial history but a universal one, and since I have taken on, as I have already explained elsewhere, a task on a much larger scale than my predecessors, I must be even more careful than they are about method and arrangement, so that my work will be clear both in its details and in its overall design.

Accordingly, I shall now turn back a little to the kingdoms of Antiochus and Ptolemy, and try to establish a starting point that is both agreed upon and readily recognizable for what I am about to say, since that is the most important thing of all.

Chapter 32 Dimidium Facti Qui Coepit Habet, Well Begun is Half Done

The old writers used to say that the beginning is half of the whole, and they advised people to take the greatest care in every undertaking to begin well.

They seem to have spoken in exaggerated terms, but to me they appear to have said less than the truth. One might confidently say that the beginning is not half of the whole, but reaches all the way to the end.

For how is it possible to begin anything well without first having grasped in one's mind the completion of the plan, and without knowing where one is aiming, toward what end, and for what purpose one is undertaking the task?

And how can anyone properly sum up events without bringing their beginning into the account, and without showing where they started from, how they began, and for what reason they have arrived at the present situation?

For this reason, when we say that beginnings extend not merely to the middle but to the end, we must take the greatest care with them, both as speakers and as listeners, when it comes to the whole course of events.

That, too, is what we shall now try to do.

Chapter 33 Previous "Universal" Histories Not Really Universal

I am not unaware that many other historians too make the same claim as I do, saying that they write universal history and have taken up the greatest subject among past events.

As for these writers, setting aside Ephorus, the first and only man who truly undertook to write universal history, I will neither say much nor mention any of the others by name.

I will only note this much: some writers of our own time, after disposing of the war between Rome and Carthage in three or four pages, claim that they are writing universal history.

Yet who is so ignorant as not to know that at that time the most numerous and greatest actions took place in Iberia and Libya, and also in Sicily and Italy, and that the war of Hannibal, apart from the war over Sicily, became the most famous and longest-lasting of wars, while all of us were compelled by its magnitude to keep our eyes fixed on it, in fear of the final outcome?

And yet some of these authors, without recording even as much as those who from time to time scribble public notices on walls, say that they have included all the events of Greece and of the non-Greek world.

The reason is that it is perfectly easy to lay claim in words to the greatest achievements, but it is not easy in practice to attain anything worthwhile.

The former lies open and is common to all, one might say, who are capable only of daring; the latter is exceedingly rare and has fallen to very few in the course of life.

I have been led to say this because of the boastfulness of men who glorify themselves and their own works. Now I return to the beginning of my own subject.

Chapter 34 Weakness of Ptolemy Philopator

As soon as Ptolemy, called Philopator, after his father's death had removed his brother Magas and those who were working with him, took over the kingdom of Egypt, he supposed that by his own action and by the deed just mentioned he had freed himself from dangers at home, and that fortune had delivered him from dangers abroad, since Antigonus and Seleucus were dead, while Antiochus and Philip, who had inherited their realms, were extremely young, scarcely more than boys.

Trusting therefore in the circumstances of the moment, he conducted the business of his rule in an increasingly festive spirit, making himself inaccessible and hard to approach for the people at court and for the other officials who managed affairs in Egypt, while showing himself negligent and idle toward those appointed over matters abroad, though his predecessors had paid no less attention to these matters, but rather more, than to the rule of Egypt itself.

Accordingly they kept pressure on the kings of Syria both by land and by sea, because they controlled Coele-Syria and Cyprus.

They also stood over the dynasts of Asia, and likewise over the islands, because they were masters of the most important cities, districts, and harbors all along the coast from Pamphylia to the Hellespont and the region around Lysimacheia.

They also kept watch over affairs in Thrace and Macedonia, since they controlled the cities around Aenus and Maroneia and even places farther on.

Having thus stretched out their hands far afield and pushed the reach of their power well forward before them, they never felt anxiety about their rule in Egypt. Naturally, then, they took great pains over foreign affairs.

But this king, neglecting each of these matters because of shameful lusts and senseless, constant drunkenness, naturally in a very short time found more than one man plotting against both his life and his throne, the first of whom was Cleomenes the Spartan.

Chapter 35 Cleomenes Asks for Help from Egypt

As long as the king called Euergetes was alive—the man with whom he had entered into partnership and solemn agreement—Cleomenes remained quiet, convinced that through him he would always obtain the support needed to recover his ancestral kingdom.

But when that king died, and time kept passing, while the situation in Greece all but called for Cleomenes by name—since Antigonus was dead, the Achaeans were at war, and the Spartans, in accordance with Cleomenes' original purpose and policy, were joining the Aetolians in their hostility to the Achaeans and Macedonians— then indeed he was compelled all the more to hurry and exert himself to secure departure from Alexandria.

So at first he sought interviews and urged the king to send him out with the necessary funds and force.

After that, when he was ignored, he begged at least to be released with only his own attendants; for, he said, the circumstances were showing him opportunities enough to regain his ancestral rule. But the king, taking no notice of any such matters and making no provision for the future because of the reasons already given, kept on senselessly and foolishly refusing Cleomenes.

But Sosibius and his circle—for he was at that time the leading man in affairs—met together and held discussions about what should be done concerning him.

They decided not to send him out with a fleet and funds, because, despising foreign affairs after the death of Antigonus, they thought that any expense spent on such matters would be wasted.

Besides this, they were afraid that, with Antigonus dead and no rival left, Cleomenes might quickly bring Greece under his own control without a struggle and become for them a serious and formidable opponent, since he had seen their position at close quarters, had come to despise the king, and could observe that many parts of the kingdom were only loosely attached and far removed from the royal center, and offered many opportunities for decisive action.

For there were no small number of ships in the region of Samos and a considerable body of troops in the region of Ephesus.

For these reasons, then, they rejected the plan of sending him out with support; but they did not think it in any way advantageous to themselves to carelessly dismiss such a man, an obvious enemy and foe.

The course left was to keep him there against his will. This too they all rejected at once and without discussion, thinking it unsafe to stable a lion and sheep together. Sosibius above all viewed this course with suspicion for something like the following reason.

Chapter 36 Cleomenes In Alexandria

At the time when they were arranging the murder of Magas and Berenice, they were anxious that their attempt might fail, especially because of Berenice's boldness, and so they were forced to flatter everyone at court and to hold out hopes to all if events turned out according to their plan.

At that moment Sosibius, seeing that Cleomenes needed help from the king but possessed judgment and a real understanding of affairs, held out great hopes to him and at the same time let him into the plot.

And Cleomenes, seeing that he was alarmed and especially afraid of the foreign troops and mercenaries, urged him to be confident; for he promised that the mercenaries would do him no harm, but would actually help him.

When Sosibius showed even greater amazement at this promise, he said, "Do you not see that there are nearly three thousand foreign troops here from the Peloponnese and about a thousand Cretans, and that if we merely give the signal, they will all readily serve us?

Once these men are assembled, whom are you afraid of?

Surely not the soldiers from Syria and Caria?"

At the time, then, Sosibius was pleased to hear this and was doubly encouraged in his action against Berenice.

But afterward, as he observed the king's slackness, he kept renewing the thought in his mind, and kept before his eyes both the boldness of Cleomenes and the goodwill that the foreign troops felt toward him. Therefore it was especially then that he urged the king and his friends to act first and shut Cleomenes up.

To carry out this plan [...]

Chapter 37 Sosibius Plots Against Cleomenes

To carry out this plan, he made use of the following opportunity. There was a Messenian named Nicagoras, a hereditary guest-friend of Archidamus, king of the Lacedaemonians.

Before this, the connection between the two men had been slight. But when Archidamus fled Sparta out of fear of Cleomenes and came to Messenia, Nicagoras not only eagerly received him into his house and supplied his other needs, but from their subsequent life together there grew between them complete goodwill and close familiarity.

Accordingly, when Cleomenes later held out to Archidamus hopes of returning home and of being reconciled with him, Nicagoras devoted himself to carrying messages between them and arranging the terms that were to guarantee good faith.

When these terms had been ratified, Archidamus went back down to Sparta, trusting the agreements made through Nicagoras.

But Cleomenes, when he met him, killed Archidamus, though he spared Nicagoras and the others who were with him.

So Nicagoras outwardly pretended that he owed Cleomenes gratitude for saving his own life, but inwardly he took the affair very hard, believing that he himself had become responsible for the king's destruction.

This same Nicagoras had sailed to Alexandria a short time earlier, bringing horses.

As he was disembarking from the ship, he came upon Cleomenes, Panteus, and Hippitas with them, walking in the harbor beside the quay.

When Cleomenes saw him and came up to him, he greeted him warmly and asked what had brought him there.

When Nicagoras said that he had arrived with horses, Cleomenes said, "I wish you had brought male prostitutes and harp-girls instead of horses; that is what the present king is eager for."

At that moment Nicagoras merely laughed and said nothing. But a few days later, after he had become more closely acquainted with Sosibius through the horse business, he repeated to him the remark just quoted against Cleomenes, and, seeing that Sosibius listened with pleasure, laid out for him the whole grievance he had long felt against Cleomenes.

Chapter 38 Cleomenes Is Arrested

Sosibius, seeing that Nicagoras was hostile in his attitude toward Cleomenes, partly by giving him money on the spot and partly by promising more for the future, persuaded him to leave behind a sealed letter accusing Cleomenes, so that, when Nicagoras sailed away a few days later, his servant could bring the letter to Sosibius as though Nicagoras had sent it.

When Nicagoras had played his part in the scheme, and after his departure the letter had been brought by the servant to Sosibius, Sosibius immediately went to the king, taking both the servant and the letter with him. The servant said that Nicagoras had left the letter behind and instructed him to deliver it to Sosibius, and the letter explained that Cleomenes intended, unless they arranged to send him off with the fitting equipment and financial support, to rise against the king's interests.

Sosibius at once seized on this opening and urged the king and the other royal friends not to delay, but to keep Cleomenes under watch and shut him up.

When this had been done, and a very large house had been assigned to him, he spent his time there under guard, differing from the other men placed in custody only in this, that he lived in a larger prison.

Seeing the situation he was in, and having grim expectations for the future, Cleomenes decided to try every possible course.

He did so not because he was convinced he could carry out his plan successfully—for he had none of the conditions that could reasonably promise success—but rather because he was eager to die nobly and to endure nothing unworthy of the courage he had shown before.

At the same time, as it seems to me, he was turning over in his mind and setting before himself the thought that often comes to high-spirited men:

"No, let me not die without effort and without glory, but only after doing some great deed that men yet to come may hear of."

Chapter 39 Death of Cleomenes

So, after watching for the king's departure to Canopus, he spread a report among those guarding him that the king was about to release him. On that pretext he gave a feast to his own attendants, and sent sacrificial meat, garlands, and wine to the guards as well.

They made use of these things without suspicion and became thoroughly drunk. Then Cleomenes took with him the friends who were with him and the young attendants around his person, and about midday slipped out past the guards carrying daggers.

As they advanced and met Ptolemy, who had then been left in charge of the city, in the broad street, they struck terror into the men with him by their daring, dragged him down from his four-horse chariot, secured him, and called on the crowds to win their freedom.

But because no one paid attention to them or joined their movement, owing to the unexpected nature of the attempt, they turned back and rushed toward the citadel, intending to force open its gates and make use of the men who had been taken there for imprisonment.

But when this attempt also failed, because those in charge had foreseen what was coming and secured the gate, they laid hands on themselves in a very brave and Spartan manner.

So Cleomenes ended his life in this way, a man who was engaging in company, naturally gifted in the management of affairs, and, in sum, kingly and fitted by nature to command.

Chapter 40 Origin of War in Coele-Syria

Not long after this, Theodotus, the man appointed over Coele-Syria, an Aetolian by birth, partly because he despised the king on account of the licentiousness of his life and his whole character, and partly because he had lost confidence in the men at court, since only a short time before he had rendered the king notable services in other matters and especially in Antiochus's first move against Coele-Syria, yet had received no gratitude for this, but on the contrary had been recalled to Alexandria and had narrowly escaped with his life, for these reasons now resolved to open communication with Antiochus and hand over to him the cities of Coele-Syria. Antiochus gladly welcomed the prospect, and the affair quickly began to move forward.

But so that we may do the same for this royal house as we did for that of Egypt, let us go back to Antiochus's accession to power and from that point give a summary survey down to the beginning of the war that is now to be described.

For Antiochus was the younger son of Seleucus, surnamed Callinicus. When his father died and his brother Seleucus succeeded to the kingship by right of age, Antiochus at first withdrew to the upper regions and made his residence there.

But when Seleucus, after crossing Taurus with an army, was assassinated, as we have said before, Antiochus in turn took over the government and became king himself, entrusting the rule on this side of Taurus to Achaeus, and placing the upper parts of the kingdom in the hands of Molon and Molon's brother Alexander, Molon being satrap of Media and his brother of Persia.

Chapter 41 The Royal Family of Syria

These men, despising him because of his youth, hoping that Achaeus would become their partner in the attempt, and above all fearing the brutality and malicious interference of Hermeias, who at that time was in control of the whole administration, set about revolting and drawing the upper satrapies away with them.

Hermeias was a Carian, and he had come to preside over affairs because Seleucus, the king's brother, had entrusted him with this confidence when he undertook his campaign against Attalus.

Once he had gained this authority, he envied everyone at court who held a prominent position; and, being cruel by nature, he punished some by putting the worst construction on mere mistakes, while against others he brought fabricated and false accusations, acting as an unforgiving and bitter judge.

Most of all he was eager, and made it his business in every way, to destroy Epigenes, who had brought back the troops that had marched out with Seleucus, because he could see that the man was capable of judgment, speech, and action, and was held in high esteem by the army.

With this purpose in mind, he kept waiting for some opportunity and pretext to use against the man I have mentioned.

When the council was assembled to consider Molon's revolt, and the king ordered each member to state his view on how they ought to deal with the rebels, Epigenes spoke first and advised that there should be no delay, but that they should take the matter in hand at once, and above all that the king should proceed to the region himself and be present on the spot at the critical moments.

For in that way either Molon's party would not dare at all to engage in revolutionary action, with the king present and visible to the masses with a force of proper size, or, if they did venture it and persisted in their plan, they would quickly be swept up by the crowds and handed over into the king's power.

Chapter 42 Antiochus Encouraged to Attack Coele-Syria

While the man just mentioned was still speaking, Hermeias, in a burst of anger, declared that for a long time he had escaped notice despite being a plotter and traitor against the kingdom.

But now, he said, he had done well to reveal himself by the advice he had given, since he was eager to deliver the king's person to the rebels with only a few attendants.

For the moment, however, after as it were merely breathing life into the slander, he let Epigenes pass, making it look more like an ill-timed outburst of bitterness than settled hostility.

As for his own opinion, terrified by the danger and inexperienced in war, he shrank from the expedition against Molon, but urged an expedition against Ptolemy, convinced that this war was safe because of that king's indolence.

So for the time being, after overawing everyone in the council, he sent Xenon and Theodotus the Hemiolius with a force as generals against Molon, while he kept continually urging Antiochus on, thinking that he ought to lay hands on affairs in Coele-Syria.

He thought that only in this way, if war hemmed the young king in on every side, would he neither pay the penalty for his former wrongdoing nor be deprived of his present power, because of the king's needs and the contests and dangers that would always surround him.

And so at last he forged a letter as though it had been sent by Achaeus and presented it to the king, setting out that Ptolemy was inviting Achaeus to assert his claim to power and saying that he would furnish ships and money for every undertaking, if only he would take up the diadem and openly make himself known to all as a claimant to the throne, which, the letter said, he already possessed in fact even now, but by begrudging himself the title he was pushing aside the crown that fortune offered him.

The king believed what was written and stood ready and eager to campaign against Coele-Syria.

Chapter 43 Revolt of Molon In Media

While he was at Seleuceia-on-the-Zeugma at this time, Diognetus the admiral arrived from Cappadocia on the Euxine, bringing Laodice, the daughter of King Mithridates, still a maiden, who had been designated as the king's wife.

Mithridates claimed to be descended from one of the seven Persians who overthrew the Magus, and he had preserved the dynasty that had been handed down to his ancestors from the beginning by Darius along the Euxine Sea.

Antiochus received the girl with the fitting welcome and protection, and at once celebrated the marriage, employing magnificent and royal preparations.

After the wedding had been completed, he went down to Antioch, proclaimed Laodice queen, and thereafter busied himself with preparations for the war.

Meanwhile Molon, having made the populations of his own satrapy ready for anything, partly through hopes of profit and partly through the fears he instilled in their leaders by circulating threatening forged letters supposedly from the king, and having his brother Alexander as a ready ally, while also securing the neighboring satrapies through the goodwill and bribery of their governors, took the field with a large force against the king's generals.

Xenon and Theodotus, alarmed by his advance, withdrew into the cities.

Molon, once master of the territory of Apolloniatis, had supplies in more than enough abundance. Even before this he was formidable because of the greatness of his province.

Chapter 44 Geography of Media

For all the royal horse-breeding lands are entrusted to the Medes, and they possess an incalculable abundance of grain and livestock.

As for the strength and size of the country, no one could describe them adequately.

For Media lies in the middle of Asia, and, considered as a single region, surpasses all the lands in Asia both in extent and in elevation.

It also borders on some of the greatest and most warlike peoples. Along its eastern side, toward the sunrise, lies the desert plain that stretches between Persia and Parthia.

It also commands the so-called Caspian Gates and joins the mountains of the Tapyri, which are not far from the Hyrcanian Sea.

On the southern side it slopes down toward Mesopotamia and the territory of Apolloniatis, and it lies beside Persia, screened by the projecting barrier of Mount Zagros, which has an ascent of about a hundred stades, and, having many separate ridges and converging passes within it, is broken up by valleys and in some places by ravines, inhabited by Cossaei, Corbrenae, Carchi, and many other barbarian peoples who are thought to be exceptionally suited for war.

On the western side it joins the people called the Satrapeioi, who are not far distant from the tribes that extend down to the Euxine Sea.

Its northern parts are enclosed by the Elymaeans and the Aniaracae, and also by the Cadusians and the Matiani, and they lie above the parts of Pontus that join the Maeotis.

Media itself is divided by several mountain ranges running from east to west, and between them lie plains crowded with cities and villages.

Chapter 45 Xenoetas Sent Against Molon

Now that he was master of this region, which had all the resources of a kingdom, Molon had long been formidable, as I said before, because of the scale of his power.

But at this point, since the king's generals seemed to have yielded the open country to him, and since his own forces were emboldened because their first hopes were advancing exactly as they had expected, he came to seem utterly terrifying and impossible to withstand to everyone living in Asia.

Accordingly, his first plan was to cross the Tigris and lay siege to Seleucia.

But when Zeuxis blocked the crossing by seizing the river boats, Molon withdrew and went back to the place called the camp at Ctesiphon, where he prepared winter quarters for his forces.

When the king heard of Molon's advance and of the retreat of his own generals, he himself was ready once more to campaign against Molon, abandoning his move against Ptolemy and refusing to let the right moment slip away.

But Hermeias, sticking to his original plan, sent Xenoetas the Achaean with an army against Molon as commander with full powers, saying that rebels should be fought by generals, while the king ought himself to make war on kings and undertake struggles that concerned the whole realm.

Meanwhile Hermeias, keeping the young king under his control because of his age, pressed matters forward and assembled the forces at Apamea; then, breaking camp from there, he came to Laodicea.

From that place the king set out with his whole army, crossed the desert, and entered the valley called Marsyas, which lies between the foothills of Lebanon and Anti-Lebanon and is squeezed into a narrow pass by the mountains just mentioned.

At its narrowest point this place is broken up by marshland.

Chapter 46 Xenoetas Has Early Success

There are also lakes there, from which the aromatic reed used in perfumes is cut. Overlooking the narrows, on one side, is a place called Brochi, and on the other Gerrha, leaving only a narrow passage between them.

After marching for several days through the valley just described and bringing the neighboring cities under his control, the king arrived at Gerrha.

Finding that Theodotus the Aetolian had already occupied Gerrha and Brochi, and had fortified the narrow route beside the lake with trenches and palisades and posted guards in favorable positions, he at first attempted to force a passage.

But because of the strength of the terrain, and because Theodotus still stood firm, he suffered more damage than he inflicted and abandoned the attempt.

So, since the country there was so difficult, and news reached him that Xenoetas had suffered a complete defeat and that Molon was master of all the upper country, he let this enterprise go and set out to bring help to his own dominions.

For Xenoetas, the general sent out with full powers, as I said above, had gained greater authority than he had expected, and so treated his own friends with more arrogance and acted against the enemy with greater rashness.

Nevertheless, after marching down to Seleucia and summoning Diogenes, the governor of Susiana, and Pythiades, the governor of the Persian Gulf region, he led out his forces and encamped opposite the enemy with the river Tigris as his protection.

Then many men swam across to him from Molon's camp and told him that if he crossed the river, Molon's whole army would come over to his side; for they said the troops envied Molon, but were strongly loyal to the king. Elated by these reports, Xenoetas resolved to cross the Tigris.

He gave the impression that he intended to bridge the river at a place where there was a sort of island, but made no preparations suitable for that part of the river.

As a result, Molon's men came to despise this announced move.

Meanwhile Xenoetas gathered boats, fitted them out, and took great care over these preparations. Then, choosing from the whole army the strongest cavalry and infantry, and leaving Zeuxis and Pythiades at the camp, he marched by night to a point about eighty stades below Molon's camp.

After transporting his force safely in the boats, he encamped while it was still night in a naturally strong position, which was for the most part enclosed by the river and on the rest secured by marshes and bogs.

Chapter 47 Molon Withdraws Toward Media

When Molon realized what had happened, he sent out his cavalry, thinking they would easily stop those who were still crossing and crush those who had already crossed.

But when they came near Xenoetas's men, their ignorance of the terrain made them useless even without enemy action: sinking and being swallowed up in the bogs under their own weight, they were all rendered ineffective, and many of them perished.

Xenoetas, convinced that if he drew near, Molon's forces would change sides and join him, advanced along the river and encamped close to the opposing army.

At this moment Molon, either as a stratagem or because he distrusted his troops and feared that something of what Xenoetas expected might actually happen, left his baggage in the camp, broke up by night, and pushed on with a rapid march toward Media.

Xenoetas, supposing that Molon had fled in panic at his advance and because he distrusted his own forces, first occupied the enemy camp, and then ferried over to himself from Zeuxis's camp his own cavalry and their baggage.

After this he assembled the men and urged the mass of the soldiers to be confident and to hold fine hopes for the whole situation, now that Molon had fled.

With these words he ordered them all to attend to themselves and recover their strength, since at dawn he intended to march at once against the enemy.

Chapter 48 The Fall of Xenoetas

But the mass of the soldiers, now full of confidence and supplied with provisions of every kind, rushed into indulgence, drinking, and the slackness that goes along with such impulses.

Molon, after covering a considerable distance and giving his men their meal, turned back and came upon them by a countermarch; finding them all scattered and drunk, he attacked the enemy palisade just before daybreak.

Xenoetas and his officers were stunned by the unexpected turn of events, and since they were unable to rouse the mass of the men because drunkenness had them in its grip, they themselves rushed senselessly against the enemy and were killed.

Of the soldiers who were asleep, most were cut down where they lay in their beds, while the rest threw themselves into the river and tried to cross to the camp on the opposite bank; but most of these too perished.

In general there was a chaotic and indiscriminate confusion throughout the camps, for all were stricken with panic and terror.

And because the camp on the opposite bank was visible and only a very short distance away, their desire to save themselves made them forget the force and difficulty of the river.

So in their desperation and their rush for safety they threw themselves into the river, and they even drove the pack animals in along with the baggage, as though the river, by some providential care, would cooperate with them and carry them safely across to the camp on the far side.

The result was that the stream presented a tragic and extraordinary spectacle, with horses, pack animals, weapons, corpses, and baggage of every kind all being swept along together with the swimmers.

After seizing Xenoetas's camp, Molon then crossed the river safely, since no one hindered him because Zeuxis and his men had fled at his onset; and so he became master of Zeuxis's camp as well.

Having accomplished this, he advanced with his army to Seleucia.

He took that city too at the first assault, because Zeuxis's men had fled, and with it he also seized Diomedon, the commandant of Seleucia. After that he advanced and brought the upper satrapies under his control without striking a blow.

Once he had made himself master of Babylonia and of the region along the Persian Gulf, he came to Susa.

He captured the city there too at the first assault, but when he attacked the citadel he accomplished nothing, because the general Diogenes had got inside it before him.

So he gave up that attempt, left troops behind to conduct the siege, quickly broke camp, and led his force back down again to Seleucia on the Tigris.

There he took great care of the army and encouraged the mass of the men; then he set out on the operations that followed, occupying Parapotamia as far as the city of Europus and Mesopotamia as far

as Dura.

When this news reached Antiochus, as I said above, he gave up hope of success in Coele-Syria and turned to these operations.

Chapter 49 Hermeias Overruled

With his hopes now turned toward this campaign, the council met again, and the king called on them to speak about how the preparations against Molon ought to be used. Epigenes once more began the discussion by speaking about the present crisis.

He said that they ought long ago to have acted without delay on his advice, before the enemy gained such great advantages; but even now, he maintained, they still had to take the matter firmly in hand.

At this Hermeias again flew into a blind and reckless rage and began to insult him.

While lavishly praising himself and bringing charges against Epigenes that were both false and beside the point, he kept urging the king not to disregard the hopes they had in Coele-Syria so irrationally, nor to give them up.

This offended most of those present and displeased Antiochus too; and only with difficulty, because the king took great pains to reconcile them, was the quarrel brought to an end.

Since the majority thought that Epigenes had spoken more necessarily and more usefully, the decision was ratified: they were to campaign against Molon and devote themselves to that business.

Hermeias quickly put on a show of agreement and changed his tone, declaring that all ought to support the decision without excuse; and he himself at once made a great display of readiness.

Chapter 50 Death of Epigenes

When the forces had assembled at Apamea, a disturbance arose among the mass of the soldiers over the pay and rations still owed to them.

Seeing that the king was alarmed and frightened by the outbreak at so critical a moment, Hermeias promised to settle all the allowances due to the troops, provided the king would consent not to take Epigenes with him on the campaign.

For, he said, no orderly conduct of the expedition was possible when so much anger and faction had been stirred up among the men.

The king heard this with displeasure and was extremely eager, because of Epigenes' experience in warfare, to have him accompany the campaign.

But he was so hemmed in and already so dominated by Hermeias' scheming, watchfulness, and ingratiating service that he was no longer master of himself; so, yielding to the pressure of the moment, he granted what was demanded.

When Epigenes withdrew, as ordered, [...], the men in the council were appalled at the spite behind it.

The troops, on the other hand, once they had received what they asked for, swung around and became well disposed toward the man responsible for setting their pay right, except for the Cyrrhestians.

These mutinied, and being nearly six thousand in number, went over to open revolt and caused a great deal of trouble for a considerable time. But in the end they were defeated in battle by one of the king's generals; most were killed, and the survivors surrendered themselves to the king's mercy.

Hermeias, having thus made the king's friends dependent on him through fear and the troops through the services he had rendered them, broke camp and marched on with the king.

As for Epigenes, he devised the following plot against him, taking as his accomplice Alexis, the commander of the citadel of Apamea.

He wrote a letter as though it had been sent from Molon to Epigenes, and by dazzling one of Epigenes' servants with great promises persuaded him to slip the letter into Epigenes' papers.

Once this had been done, Alexis immediately appeared and asked Epigenes whether he had received any letters from Molon.

When Epigenes indignantly denied it, Alexis demanded the right to search. Entering at once, he quickly found the letter, and using it as his pretext, killed Epigenes on the spot.

After this, the king was persuaded that Epigenes had justly perished; those about the court, however, suspected what had really happened, but kept silent out of fear.

Chapter 51 Antiochus Marches Through Mesopotamia

When Antiochus reached the Euphrates and took over the force stationed there, he set out again, and after marching as far as Antioch in Mygdonia he stayed there about the winter solstice, wishing to wait out the onset and height of the season.

After remaining there about forty days, he advanced to Libba.

There a council was held on the question of how they should advance against Molon and from where and in what manner they should obtain supplies for the march, since Molon happened to be in the region around Babylon.

Hermeias thought they should march along the Tigris, keeping that river, as well as the Lycus and the Caprus, in front of them.

But Zeuxis, with the fate of Epigenes before his eyes, hesitated to say what he really thought; still, because Hermeias' ignorance was so obvious, he at last found the courage to advise that they should cross the Tigris.

He pointed out both the general difficulty of marching along the river and the further fact that, after traversing a considerable distance and then passing through six days of desert, they would reach what was called the King's Canal.

If the enemy occupied that in advance, crossing would be impossible, while a retreat back through the desert would plainly be dangerous, especially because of the shortage of supplies they would then face.

By crossing the Tigris, on the other hand, he made it clear that the people of Apolloniatis would openly repent and incline toward the king, since even now they were obeying Molon not by choice but through compulsion and fear.

He also showed that the country was excellent and would furnish the army with abundant provisions.

Most important of all, he said, Molon would be cut off from returning to Media and from getting support from those regions.

As a result, Molon would be forced either to risk a battle, or, if he refused to do so, to see his troops quickly transfer their hopes to the king.

Chapter 52 Antiochus Advances Against Molon

When Zeuxis' advice was adopted, they immediately divided the army into three parts and ferried the men and baggage across the river at three separate places.

After this they marched in the direction of Dura and relieved that city from the siege by a sudden attack, for one of Molon's commanders happened to be besieging it.

Then, by continuing their marches without interruption, on the eighth day they crossed the pass called Oreicum and came down into Apollonia.

At the same time Molon learned of the king's arrival. Since he distrusted the populations of Susiana and Babylonia, because he had only recently gained control of them and that in an unexpected way, and since he also feared being cut off from a return to Media, he decided to bridge the Tigris and move his forces across.

He was eager, if possible, to seize the rough country of Apolloniatis first, because he had confidence in the large number of slingers known as Cyrtii.

Once this decision had been carried out, he pressed on with a rapid and strenuous march.

Thus it happened that, just as Molon was approaching the places just mentioned and the king was setting out from Apollonia with all his forces, the light troops sent ahead by both sides ran into one

another on some heights.

At first they engaged and tested each other; but when the armies on both sides came up, they broke off. For the moment both sides withdrew to their own camps and encamped about forty stades apart.

When night fell, Molon reflected that for rebels fighting kings, a battle in daylight and face to face was dangerous and a disadvantage; so he resolved to attack Antiochus by night.

Selecting from the whole camp the men best suited for the task and in the prime of strength, he made a circuit by certain routes, intending to launch his attack from higher ground.

But during the march he learned that ten young men had deserted in a body to Antiochus, and so he abandoned this plan.

Quickly reversing course, he returned to his own entrenchment and arrived around dawn, filling the whole camp with noise and confusion.

For the men posted by the palisade, startled from sleep by the rush of those approaching, nearly bolted from the camp.

Molon, for his part, did what he could to calm the disturbance [...]

Chapter 53 Disposition of Troops

But while Molon was doing what he could to quiet the disorder that had broken out among his men, the king, ready for battle, moved his whole army out of the camp at daybreak.

On the right wing he stationed first the lancer cavalry, putting Ardys, a man distinguished in military affairs, in command.

Next to them he placed the allied Cretans, and after these the Galatian Rhigosages. Beside them he stationed the mercenaries and foreign troops from Greece, and next to these he drew up the phalanx.

He assigned the left wing to the cavalry known as the Companions. The elephants, ten in number, he placed in front of the line at intervals.

Dividing the reserve bodies of infantry and cavalry between the two wings, he ordered them, once battle was joined, to outflank the enemy.

After this he rode along the line and addressed the troops in a few words suited to the moment. He entrusted the left wing to Hermeias and Zeuxis, while he himself held the right.

Molon, by contrast, found it hard to lead his army out, and their deployment too was confused and disordered because of the senseless panic of the previous night.

Still, he divided his cavalry between the two wings, judging from the enemy's formation what arrangement they would probably use, and in the space between the cavalry bodies he stationed the shield-bearing infantry, the Gauls, and in general all his heavy troops.

His archers, slingers, and that whole class of troops he posted outside the cavalry on either flank.

And he drew up his scythed chariots in front of the army at intervals. He gave the left wing to his brother Neolaus, while he himself took the right.

Chapter 54 Defeat and Death of Molon

When the armies advanced to engage, Molon's right wing remained loyal and attacked Zeuxis' division with vigor, but his left wing no sooner came within sight of the king than it went over to the enemy.

As a result, Molon's men lost heart, while the king's troops were strengthened twofold in confidence.

Molon understood what had happened and, now being surrounded on every side, thought of the outrages that would be inflicted on him if he were taken alive and fell into the enemy's hands. So he laid violent hands on himself.

In much the same way all who had shared in the revolt fled each to his own place and ended their lives by the same kind of death.

Neolaus escaped from the battle and reached Persis, where Alexander, Molon's brother, was staying. There he slaughtered their mother and Molon's children; and after their deaths he killed himself as well, having persuaded Alexander to do the same.

The king, after plundering the enemy camp, ordered Molon's body to be impaled in the most conspicuous place in Media.

Those appointed for the task carried this out at once, transporting the body to Callonitis and impaling it close to the ascent toward the Zagros.

After this the king rebuked the rebel troops at length and then, giving them his right hand in pledge, restored them and appointed officers to lead them back into Media and settle the affairs of the country.

He himself went down to Seleucia and set the neighboring satrapies in order, treating everyone with moderation and intelligence.

Hermeias, however, true to his own disposition, brought charges against the people of Seleucia and fined the city a thousand talents; he drove the officials called Adeiganes into exile, and by mutilating, executing, and torturing many men, he destroyed a large number of Seleucians.

With great difficulty the king finally calmed and restored the city, partly by persuading Hermeias, partly by managing matters on his own judgment, and by exacting from them only a fine of one

hundred and fifty talents for their error.

When he had arranged these things, he left Diogenes as governor of Media and Apollodorus of Susiana. Tychon, the chief secretary, he sent to command the regions along the Erythraean Sea.

Such was the way the revolt of Molon and the disturbance caused by it in the upper satrapies were corrected and brought to an end.

Chapter 55 Artabazanes Makes a Treaty with Antiochus

Elated by this success, and wishing to raise himself up and strike fear into the barbarian rulers who bordered on his satrapies, so that they might never dare either to supply or to join in war with any of his rebels, the king resolved to campaign against them, first against Artabazanes.

For Artabazanes was thought to be the strongest and most energetic of those dynasts, and to rule over the people called the Satrapeii and the neighboring tribes as well.

At this time Hermeias feared the expedition into the upper country because of its dangers, and still longed, in keeping with his original plan, for the campaign against Ptolemy.

Yet when news came that a son had been born to the king, he reasoned that Antiochus might perhaps suffer some misfortune among the barbarians in the upper country and that such a situation would give him an opportunity to remove him; so he agreed to the expedition.

He was convinced that, if Antiochus were removed, he himself, as guardian of the child, would hold power over the kingdom.

Once this had been decided, they crossed the Zagros and invaded the territory of Artabazanes, which borders on Media, being separated from it by the mountain chain that lies between; while above it lie some parts of the Pontus, in the region beyond the Phasis, and it stretches to the Hyrcanian Sea.

It contains a large population of brave men, especially cavalry, and it is self-sufficient in the other equipment needed for war as well.

This rulership, it so happens, had survived from Persian times, because it had been overlooked in the age of Alexander.

But Artabazanes, alarmed by the king's advance and especially by reason of his age, for he was by then extremely old, yielded to the circumstances and made terms acceptable to Antiochus.

Chapter 56 Death of Hermeias

After this settlement had been ratified, Apollophanes the physician, who enjoyed the king's special affection, saw that Hermeias was no longer bearing his power within any proper limits. He was anxious for the king, but even more suspicious and fearful for himself.

So when he found an opportunity he addressed the king, urging him not to be careless or unsuspecting of Hermeias' audacity, and not to wait until he had to struggle with misfortunes like those that had overtaken his brother.

He said the danger was not far off, and begged the king to be alert and to come quickly to the aid of himself and his friends.

Antiochus answered that he too disliked and feared Hermeias, and said that he was deeply grateful to Apollophanes for daring to speak to him about the matter with such loyal concern.

This made Apollophanes confident, since he saw that he had not been mistaken in judging the king's feelings and attitude.

Antiochus then asked Apollophanes to help secure the safety of himself and his friends, not only with words but with action.

Apollophanes declared himself ready for anything. So they came to an understanding and put forward the excuse that attacks of dizziness had come upon the king. For a few days they suspended both the treatment and the attendance of those who were accustomed to wait on him.

At the same time they gave themselves the freedom, under cover of the medical visits, to confer privately with whatever friends they wished.

In that period they prepared the men suited to the undertaking, and because everyone readily cooperated out of hatred for Hermeias, they moved toward carrying out the plot.

Since the physicians declared that Antiochus ought to take walks at daybreak in the cool air, Hermeias came at the appointed time, and with him came the king's friends who knew of the plan.

The others were late, because the king's departure was taking place at a very different hour from his usual one.

So they drew Hermeias away from the camp to a lonely place, and when the king turned aside a little, as though for a necessary purpose, they stabbed Hermeias to death.

Hermeias, then, ended his life in this way, suffering no punishment equal to the deeds he had done.

The king, freed from great fear and embarrassment, continued his march homeward, and all the people of the country approved both his actions and his designs; above all, as he passed, they celebrated the removal of Hermeias.

At the same time in Apamea the women stoned Hermeias' wife to death, and the boys did the same to his sons.

Chapter 57 Achaeus Attempts Treason

When Antiochus had returned home and distributed his troops into winter quarters, he kept sending messages to Achaeus, reproaching him first for having dared to put on the diadem and act as king, and second warning him that his dealings with Ptolemy and, in general, his excessive agitation had not escaped notice.

For while the king was campaigning against Artabazanes, Achaeus had convinced himself that Antiochus might suffer some disaster; and even if he did not, Achaeus hoped that, because of the great distance, he would be able to forestall him by invading Syria and, using the Cyrrhestians who had revolted from the king as his allies, quickly gain control of the kingdom's affairs. With this in mind he set out from Lydia with his whole army.

When he reached Laodicea in Phrygia, he put on the diadem and for the first time dared to conduct himself and write to the cities as king, being urged on above all in this direction by the exile Garsyeris.

But as he continued his advance and was already near Lycaonia, the troops mutinied, displeased at the thought that the campaign was being directed against the man who was by nature and from the beginning their lawful king.

So Achaeus, recognizing the change in their feelings, gave up the enterprise he had planned; and wishing to persuade the troops that he had never intended from the beginning to march into Syria, he wheeled about and ravaged Pisidia.

By thereby providing abundant profit for the camp, he returned home with all his soldiers favorable to him and fully trusting him.

Chapter 58 Seleucia

The king understood all these matters clearly; so while he kept sending repeated warnings to Achaeus, as I said above, he threw his whole energy into the preparations against Ptolemy.

Therefore, when spring approached and he had gathered his forces at Apamea, he invited his friends to deliberate on how they ought to conduct the invasion of Coele-Syria.

Many things were said on this question, about the terrain, the necessary preparations, and the cooperation to be expected from the naval force; but Apollophanes, whom I mentioned before, a native of Seleucia, cut short all the proposals just described.

He said it was foolish to desire Coele-Syria and march against it while allowing Seleucia to remain in Ptolemy's hands, when that city was the founding center and, so to speak, the hearth of their own dominion.

Quite apart from the disgrace involved in seeing it garrisoned by the kings of Egypt, it also offered, in practical terms, the greatest and finest bases for action.

So long as it was held by the enemy, it was the greatest hindrance to all their plans.

For wherever they might decide to advance, they would need to exercise no less care and guarding over their own territory, because of the danger that enemy operations launched from that city posed.

But if they took it, he said, they would not only secure their own country firmly, but would also gain powerful support for their other undertakings and designs, both by land and by sea, because of the site's strategic advantages.

Everyone was persuaded by what he said, and it was decided to make the capture of this city their first step.

For Seleucia was still at that time held by garrisons of the Egyptian kings, dating from the time of Ptolemy called Euergetes, when, because of what had happened to Berenice and in anger on her behalf, he campaigned in Syria and gained possession of this city.

Chapter 59 Description of Seleucia

Once this had been decided, Antiochus ordered Diognetus the admiral to sail against Seleucia, while he himself set out from Apamea with the army and, after coming to within about five stades of the city, encamped near the hippodrome.

He also sent Theodotus Hemiolius with the proper force toward Coele-Syria, to seize the passes and at the same time secure the way for his own operations.

The position of Seleucia and the peculiar nature of the surrounding country are as follows.

The city lies on the sea between Cilicia and Phoenicia, and above it towers a very great mountain called Coryphaeus.

Its western side is washed by the stretch of sea that lies between Cyprus and Phoenicia, while its eastern parts rise above the territory of Antioch and Seleucia.

On its southern slopes lies Seleucia, separated by a deep and hard-to-cross ravine, descending toward the sea and enclosed for the most part by cliffs and sheer rocks.

On the side sloping toward the sea, on the level ground below, lie the trading quarter and the suburb, strongly fortified.

Likewise the whole body of the city is secured by expensive walls and adorned in splendid fashion with temples and impressive buildings.

There is only one approach on the sea side, an artificial stair-like ascent broken up by frequent turns and awkward steps.

Not far from the city the river called the Orontes empties into the sea. It takes its source in the region of Lebanon and Anti-Lebanon and, after traversing the plain called Amyce, reaches Antioch.

Flowing through that city and carrying off all its human refuse by the force of its current, it finally discharges into the sea just mentioned not far from Seleucia.

Chapter 60 Capture of Seleucia

Antiochus first sent messages to the officials of the city, offering money and many inducements if they would hand over Seleucia without danger.

When he could not persuade the men in chief authority, he corrupted some of the subordinate commanders; trusting in them, he prepared his forces so that the assault from the sea side would be made by the fleet, and that from the landward side by the troops from the camp.

So he divided the army into three parts, encouraged them with words suited to the moment, and publicly proclaimed large rewards and crowns for bravery, both for common soldiers and for officers.

He assigned to Zeuxis and his men the positions by the gate leading toward Antioch; to Hermogenes the sector near the Dioscurium; and to Ardys and Diognetus he entrusted the assaults on the dockyards and the suburb.

For he had made such agreements with certain men inside that, if he took the suburb by force, the city itself would then be handed over to him.

When the signal was given, all of them together and from every side pressed the attack with energy and violence; but the men with Ardys and Diognetus attacked with the greatest daring.

For at the other points the ground did not really admit an assault by scaling ladders at all, unless men somehow clung and scrambled upward on all fours; but the dockyards and the suburb did allow ladders to be brought up, planted, and leaned securely against them.

So, while the men from the fleet fixed their ladders against the dockyards and Ardys' men against the suburb and pressed the attack hard, and while those inside the city could not bring help to these places because danger surrounded them everywhere at once, the suburb quickly fell into the hands of Ardys and his men.

As soon as it was taken, the corrupted subordinate officers ran to Leontius, the chief commander, and urged him to send envoys and come to terms with Antiochus before the city was stormed outright.

Leontius, unaware that the commanders had been corrupted but alarmed by their panic, sent men to offer guarantees and arrange for the safety of everyone in the city.

Chapter 61 Theodotus Proposes to Help Antiochus

The king accepted the proposal and agreed to grant safety to all the free inhabitants, who numbered about six thousand.

When he had taken over the city, he not only spared the free population but also brought back those of the Seleucians who had been exiled, restoring to them both their citizenship and their property; and he secured the harbor and the citadel with garrisons.

While he was still occupied with these matters, a letter arrived from Theodotus, in which he urgently summoned the king and offered to put the affairs of Coele-Syria into his hands. This threw Antiochus into great perplexity and uncertainty as to what he should do and how he ought to handle the news brought to him.

This Theodotus was an Aetolian by birth who, as I have related above, had rendered great services to the kingdom of Ptolemy. Yet for these he was not only judged unworthy of any gratitude, but had even been put in danger of his life, around the very time when Antiochus was conducting his campaign against Molon.

So then, having come to despise the king and lost all trust in those of the court, he seized Ptolemais himself and, through Panaetolus, took Tyre, and urgently called upon Antiochus.

The king set aside his designs against Achaeus and treated everything else as of secondary importance, and broke camp with his army, marching by the same route as before.

After passing through the valley called Marsyas, he encamped near the narrows at Gerrha, by the lake that lies between the mountains.

Learning that Nicolaus, Ptolemy's general, was encamped before Ptolemais besieging Theodotus, he left his heavy-armed troops behind, ordering their commanders to besiege Brochi—the place situated on the lake and commanding the pass—while he himself took the light-armed troops and advanced, intending to raise the siege.

But Nicolaus, having already learned beforehand of the king's approach, withdrew himself, and sent out Lagoras the Cretan and Dorymenes the Aetolian to seize in advance the narrows near Berytus.

Chapter 62 Invasion of Coele-Syria

The king attacked these men in his first assault and routed them, and encamped at the narrows. There he waited to receive the rest of his army as well, and after exhorting them in words fitting to the undertakings before him, he then advanced with his whole army, confident and elated by the hopes that were now taking shape.

When Theodotus and Panaetolus came out to meet him, together with their friends, he received them kindly and took over Tyre and Ptolemais and the supplies in those cities, among which were also forty ships.

Of these, twenty were decked vessels of superior construction, none smaller than a quadrireme, while the rest were triremes, biremes, and cutters. These he handed over to Diognetus the admiral.

When word reached him that Ptolemy had marched out to Memphis, that all his forces had been gathered at Pelusium, and that they were opening the sluices of the canals and stopping up the supplies of drinking water, he gave up his plan of attacking Pelusium, and instead moved against the cities, trying to bring them over to his side, some by force and others by persuasion.

Of the cities, the weaker ones, terrified at his approach, went over to him, while those that trusted in their resources and the strength of their positions held out; these he was compelled to besiege by encampment, wearing away the time.

As for Ptolemy and his people, although they had been so openly betrayed, they had not even the intention of lending immediate aid to their own affairs—as duty required—because of their incapacity: for to such a degree had everything connected with the affairs of war been neglected by them.

Chapter 63 Preparations In Egypt

Thereafter Agathocles and Sosibius, who at that time stood at the head of the kingdom, took counsel together and did what was possible from the means available to meet the present situation.

They decided to occupy themselves with the preparation for war, while in the meantime sending embassies to hold Antiochus in check, working in concert—as it appeared—with the opinion he already held about Ptolemy.

This opinion was that Ptolemy would not dare to make war, but would through negotiation and through his friends seek to instruct and persuade Antiochus to withdraw from the regions of Coele-Syria.

Once this had been decided, Agathocles and Sosibius, who had been appointed to this task, diligently sent out their embassies to Antiochus.

At the same time they sent messages to the Rhodians, the Byzantines, and the Cyzicenes, and along with these to the Aetolians, drawing in embassies to work toward a settlement.

These embassies, on their arrival, gave the ministers great opportunities, for by going back and forth between the two kings they secured a respite and time for the preparations for war.

So they dealt with these embassies continually, holding court at Memphis, and likewise they received those that came from Antiochus, conducting the meetings in a friendly manner.

They also recalled and gathered into Alexandria the mercenaries who were stationed in the cities outside Egypt and paid by them.

They sent out recruiting officers as well, and made provision of supplies for the troops they already had and for those who were coming in.

In the same way they attended to the rest of the preparations, taking turns and traveling continually to Alexandria, so that nothing should be lacking in the resources needed for the undertakings before them.

The manufacture of arms and the selection and division of the men they entrusted to Echecrates the Thessalian and Phoxidas of Melitaea, and along with these to Eurylochus the Magnesian and Socrates the Boeotian; with them too was Cnopias of Allaria.

It was a most fortunate stroke that they secured these men, who, having served on campaign with Demetrius and Antigonus, had some understanding of true warfare and of military service in the field generally.

These men took the multitude in hand and trained it as well as could be done and in soldierly fashion.

Chapter 64 Training of Soldiers

First of all, dividing the men by nationality and by age, they distributed to each group the arms suited to them, paying no regard to what they had borne before.

After this they organized them to suit the present need, breaking up the old units and the muster-rolls based on the former pay-scales.

Next they drilled them, making each man familiar not only with the words of command but also with the movements proper to his particular equipment.

They also held assemblies under arms and gave exhortations, in which the most useful were Andromachus of Aspendus and Polycrates of Argos, who had recently crossed over from Greece and were still thoroughly versed in the Greek martial spirit and in the particular ideas of the various peoples, and who were besides men of distinction in their native lands and in their own lives—

Polycrates all the more so, both because of the antiquity of his house and because of the fame his father Mnasiades had won as an athlete.

These men, exhorting the troops both privately and in public, instilled in them an eagerness and zeal for the coming struggle [...]

Chapter 65 Reform of the Egyptian Army

Each of the officers named above also held a command suited to his own particular expertise.

Eurylochus of Magnesia commanded roughly three thousand men of the corps known among the kings as the Agema, or Guard, while Socrates the Boeotian had two thousand peltasts under him.

Phoxidas the Achaean, Ptolemy the son of Thraseas, and with them Andromachus of Aspendus jointly drilled the phalanx and the Greek mercenaries on the same ground.

Andromachus and Ptolemy commanded the phalanx and Phoxidas the mercenaries; the phalanx numbered about twenty-five thousand and the mercenaries about eight thousand.

As for the cavalry, Polycrates was preparing the household horse, some seven hundred strong, together with those drawn from Libya and the native-born troops as well; he himself commanded all of these, who numbered about three thousand.

The cavalry from Greece, however, and the entire body of mercenary horse—about two thousand men—were trained with exceptional skill by Echecrates the Thessalian, who rendered the greatest service in the battle itself.

No one took more pains over the men placed under his command than Cnopias of Allaria, who had Cretans numbering three thousand in all, and among these a thousand Neo-Cretans, over whom he had set Philo of Cnossus.

They also armed three thousand Libyans in the Macedonian fashion, who were under Ammonius of Barce.

The body of Egyptians amounted to about twenty thousand phalangites and was subordinate to Sosibius.

A body of Thracians and Gauls was also assembled: about four thousand from the settlers and their descendants, while those recently brought in numbered about two thousand. These were commanded by Dionysius the Thracian.

Chapter 66 Antiochus Puts his Troops in Winter Quarters

Such, then, in its numbers and in the variety of its components, was the force being prepared for Ptolemy, and such was its character. Antiochus, meanwhile, having undertaken the siege of the city called Dora, was unable to make any progress, both because of the strength of the place and because of the relief brought up by Nicolaus and his men.

As winter was now setting in, he agreed to the proposals of Ptolemy's envoys: to make a four-month truce and to come to terms on every point in a friendly spirit regarding the whole dispute.

In doing this he was very far indeed from sincere; his real aim was not to be kept away from his own territory for any long time, but to quarter his forces for the winter at Seleucia, because Achaeus was plainly plotting against his interests and was, by common knowledge, working together with Ptolemy.

Once these terms had been agreed, Antiochus sent off the envoys, instructing them to inform him as quickly as possible of Ptolemy's decision and to join him at Seleucia.

Then, leaving suitable garrisons in the various places and entrusting Theodotus with overall command of them, he returned home; and on reaching Seleucia he dispersed his forces into winter quarters.

From then on he neglected to keep the troops in training, being convinced that affairs would call for no further fighting, since he was already master of certain parts of Coele-Syria and Phoenicia and expected to take over the rest by their owners' consent and through negotiation, as Ptolemy's people would not dare in any way to descend to a decisive engagement over the whole issue.

The envoys too came to hold this same view, because Sosibius, presiding over their meetings at Memphis, dealt with them in a friendly manner, while he never allowed those going back and forth to Antiochus to become eyewitnesses of the preparations being made at Alexandria.

Chapter 67 Claims of Antiochus and Ptolemy

Even so, when the envoys arrived this time, Sosibius and his men were ready for anything, while Antiochus was making the greatest effort to gain a complete advantage over the Alexandrians, both in arms and in the justice of his case, throughout the negotiations.

And so, when the envoys reached Seleucia and, in accordance with the instructions given by Sosibius, entered into detailed discussions about a settlement, the king, in the pleadings on the question of the present occupation of the territory around Coele-Syria, did not regard the recent misfortune and the manifest wrong as anything serious; indeed, for the most part he reckoned the action as no wrong at all, on the ground that he had simply laid claim to what already belonged to him by right.

He said that the original occupation of these regions by Antigonus the One-Eyed and the dominion exercised over them by Seleucus constituted the most valid and most just titles of possession, by virtue of which Coele-Syria belonged of right to themselves and not to Ptolemy; for Ptolemy had fought the war against Antigonus not on his own behalf, but in order to help establish Seleucus's rule over these regions.

Above all he pressed the common agreement of all the kings: the one made at the time when, having defeated Antigonus, Cassander, Lysimachus, and Seleucus all deliberated together in accordance with their joint policy and decided that the whole of Syria should belong to Seleucus.

Ptolemy's representatives tried to establish the opposite. They magnified the present wrong and made much of what had happened, treating the treachery of Theodotus and the invasion of Antiochus as a breach of the treaty; and they also brought forward the possessions held in the reign of Ptolemy son of Lagus, asserting that Ptolemy had joined Seleucus in the war on this condition: that the rule over the whole of Asia should be conferred on Seleucus, while he himself would acquire Coele-Syria and Phoenicia.

These arguments, then, and others like them, were repeatedly made by both sides in the course of the embassies and conferences, but nothing whatever was accomplished, since the pleading of the case was conducted through friends common to both parties, and there was no one standing between them with the power to restrain and check the impulse of whichever side seemed to be in the wrong.

What caused the greatest difficulty for both was the matter of Achaeus. For Ptolemy was eager to include him in the agreement, whereas Antiochus would not tolerate so much as a word about this, considering it intolerable that Ptolemy should even dare to shelter rebels and to make any mention of such a thing.

Chapter 68 Antiochus Attempts to Complete his Conquest

Therefore, since both sides had had their fill of negotiating, no conclusion had been reached about the terms, and the spring season was now at hand, Antiochus began assembling his forces, intending to invade both by land and by sea and to subdue the remaining parts of Coele-Syria still left to him.

Ptolemy's people, having more fully entrusted the conduct of affairs to Nicolaus, supplied lavish provisions to the region around Gaza and sent out land and naval forces.

With these reinforcements at hand, Nicolaus entered upon the war with confidence, since Perigenes the admiral readily cooperated with him in everything that was ordered.

Ptolemy's people had dispatched this man in command of the naval forces, with thirty fully decked warships and more than four hundred transport vessels.

Nicolaus was an Aetolian by birth, and in experience and daring in matters of war he was second to none of those serving under Ptolemy.

Having seized in advance, with one part of his force, the narrows at Platanus, and with the rest of his army, which he commanded in person, the area around the city of Porphyrion, he guarded the king's line of approach there, with the naval force riding at anchor alongside him.

Antiochus, advancing to Marathus, received a deputation of Aradians seeking an alliance; he not only accepted the alliance but also put an end to the existing quarrel among them, reconciling the Aradians on the island with those dwelling on the mainland.

After this he made his invasion by way of the place called Theoprosopon ("the Face of God") and came to Berytus, having taken Botrys on the way and burned Trieres and Calamus.

From there he sent Nicarchus and Theodotus ahead, ordering them to seize beforehand the difficult passes around the river called the Lycus; he himself took up his force, advanced, and encamped near the river Damuras, with Diognetus the admiral sailing along the coast beside him.

Taking up again from there Theodotus and Nicarchus with the light-armed troops of the army, he set out to reconnoitre the difficult ground already held by Nicolaus's men.

After thoroughly surveying the peculiarities of the terrain, he withdrew for that day to his camp; but on the following day, leaving his heavy arms there and Nicarchus in charge of them, he advanced with the rest of his force [...]

Chapter 69 Antiochus Forces the Pass of Porphyrion

At this point the lower slopes of Mount Lebanon press the coastline into a small and narrow strip, and this strip is itself cut across by a rugged ridge that is hard to traverse, leaving only a cramped and difficult passage right along the sea's edge.

Here Nicolaus had taken up his position. Having seized some of the points beforehand with the sheer number of his men and secured others with artificial fortifications, he was confident that he could easily bar Antiochus from getting through.

The king, however, divided his army into three parts. One he handed over to Theodotus, ordering him to close with the enemy and force his way along the very foot of Lebanon; the second he gave to Menedemus, charging him at length to make his attempt against the middle of the ridge; and the third he assigned to the seaward side, placing Diocles, the military governor of Parapotamia, in command of it.

He himself, with his guard, held the central position, wishing to oversee the whole action and bring help wherever it was needed.

At the same time the squadrons of Diognetus and Perigenes, fully equipped, drew up for a sea-battle, keeping as close to the shore as they could and trying to make the engagement on land and the engagement at sea look like a single unbroken front.

When everyone launched their assault at one signal and a single word of command, the sea-fight was an evenly matched struggle, since the two fleets were nearly equal in both numbers and equipment; but on land Nicolaus's men at first had the upper hand, exploiting the strength of their positions. Soon, however, Theodotus's troops forced back those stationed on the mountain slopes, and then attacked from the higher ground, so that Nicolaus's men all broke and fled headlong.

In the rout about two thousand of them fell, and no fewer than that were taken alive; the rest all withdrew toward Sidon.

Perigenes, though he had the brighter prospects in the sea-fight, took in the defeat of the land forces and, dismayed by it, made his withdrawal safely back to the same place.

Chapter 70 Antiochus Takes More Towns

Antiochus then took up his army, advanced, and pitched camp before Sidon.

He gave up any attempt on the city, however, because of the abundant supplies already stored there and the great number of its inhabitants and of the refugees who had gathered within it.

So he took his army and marched on toward Philoteria, instructing Diognetus the admiral to sail back again with his ships to Tyre.

Philoteria lies right on the shore of the lake into which the river called the Jordan flows, and out of which it issues again into the plains around the city known as Scythopolis.

Having gained control of both of these cities by negotiated surrender, he felt confident about his coming undertakings, since the territory subject to these cities could easily supply his whole army and furnish in abundance whatever the campaign urgently required.

After securing them with garrisons, he crossed the mountain country and arrived at Atabyrium, which sits on a hill shaped like a woman's breast and has an ascent of more than fifteen stades.

On this occasion he took the city by means of an ambush and a stratagem.

He drew the men of the town out into a skirmish and lured their front-line fighters a long way down; then, by suddenly reversing his feigned flight and bringing up the men he had set in ambush, he engaged them and killed many, and finally, pursuing them and throwing them into a panic, he took this city too in the rush of his assault.

About this same time Ceraeas, one of the officers serving under Ptolemy, deserted to Antiochus. By receiving him with great honor, Antiochus stirred the hopes of many other commanders on the enemy's side; indeed, not long afterward Hippolochus the Thessalian came over to him with four hundred cavalry from Ptolemy's forces.

Having secured Atabyrium as well, he broke camp and, advancing, took over Pella and [...]

Chapter 71 Continued Success of Antiochus

Camus and Gephrus. With his fortunes running so smoothly, the people inhabiting the neighboring part of Arabia urged one another on and all with one accord went over to him.

Strengthened by the hopes and the supplies they offered, he pushed on, and gaining control [...] into Galatis [...] he reached [...] Abila and of those who had come to its relief, who were led by Nicias, a close associate and kinsman of Menneas.

Gadara alone was now left, a town reckoned the strongest in those parts; but by encamping against it and setting up siege-works he quickly frightened it into surrender and took the city.

After this, learning that a large force of the enemy had gathered at Rabbatamana in Arabia and were plundering and overrunning the country of the Arabs who had joined him, he set everything else aside and hurried off, pitching camp by the hills on which the city happens to stand.

Going around the site and observing that the hill could be approached at only two points, he advanced against these and set up the construction of his siege-engines at them.

Assigning the supervision of the works in one place to Nicarchus and in the other to Theodotus, he himself from then on made himself available to both, overseeing and inspecting the eager efforts of

each.

So great was the zeal of Theodotus's and Nicarchus's men, and so constant their rivalry over which of them would be first to bring down the wall facing his own works, that quickly and beyond expectation both sections of wall fell.

Once this had happened, they kept up assaults by night and by day and brought every kind of force to bear, letting no opportunity slip.

Yet for all their continual attempts on the city, they made no headway with their plan, because of the great number of men who had crowded together into the city—until one of the prisoners pointed out the underground passage by which the besieged used to go down to fetch water. They broke into it and blocked it up with timber, stones, and everything of that kind.

Then, giving in for lack of water, the people in the city surrendered.

Once this had happened and he had taken possession of Rabbatamana, Antiochus left Nicarchus there with a suitable garrison. He sent Hippolochus and Ceraeas, the two deserters, with five thousand infantry to the region of Samaria, with orders to take up a forward position and provide security for all those placed under his command; and he himself broke camp with his army and marched toward Ptolemais, having decided to make his winter quarters there.

Chapter 72 Achaeus Sends Aid to Pednelissus

During this same summer the people of Pednelissus, besieged and hard pressed by the Selgians, sent to Achaeus to ask for help.

When he readily agreed, they went on enduring the siege with good courage, buoyed by their hopes of relief; and Achaeus, appointing Garsyeris with six thousand infantry and five hundred cavalry, dispatched him in haste to relieve the Pednelissians.

The Selgians, perceiving that the relief force was at hand, seized in advance, with the greater part of their army, the narrow pass around the place called the Ladder; they held the entrance toward Saperda and tore up all the byways and approaches.

Garsyeris pushed into Milyas and encamped near the city called Cretopolis, but when he realized that the positions had been occupied beforehand and that any further advance was impossible, he devised the following ruse.

He broke camp and led his march back the way he had come, as though he had abandoned the relief because the positions were held against him. The Selgians readily believed it, and supposing that Garsyeris had given up coming to the rescue, some withdrew to their camp and others to the city, since the gathering of the grain harvest was now pressing.

But Garsyeris, wheeling about and marching at speed, came up to the passes. Finding them deserted, he secured them with garrisons, putting Phayllus in overall command, while he himself with his army went down to Perga, and from there conducted negotiations both with the other peoples inhabiting Pisidia and with Pamphylia, pointing out the menace posed by the Selgians and urging all of them to join in alliance with Achaeus and in bringing aid to the [Pednelissians].

Chapter 73 Defeat of the Selgians

[...] against the Pednelissians. The Selgians, meanwhile, sent out a general with an army at this time, hoping that by exploiting their familiarity with the terrain they could intimidate Phaÿllus and drive him out of his strongholds.

But they failed to achieve their aim; instead they lost many of their soldiers in the assaults, and so they gave up this hope—yet they pressed on with the siege and the siegeworks no less than before, indeed with greater determination.

To Garsyeris's side the Etenneis—the people of Pisidia who inhabit the highlands above Side—sent eight thousand hoplites, and the Aspendians sent half that number.

The people of Side, however, took no part in the relief effort, partly with an eye to gaining favor with Antiochus, but more out of their hatred of the Aspendians.

Garsyeris took up both the forces of his allies and his own and came to Pednelissus, convinced that he would lift the siege at the first assault. But when the Selgians showed no alarm, he took up a suitable distance and made camp.

As the Pednelissians were being hard pressed by want of supplies, Garsyeris, eager to do whatever he could, made ready two thousand men, gave each of them a medimnus of wheat, and sent them into Pednelissus by night.

But the Selgians, learning what was happening and coming out to intercept them, succeeded in cutting down most of the men carrying the supplies and in seizing all the grain.

Elated by this, they undertook to besiege not only the city but Garsyeris's force as well; for the Selgians always have a certain boldness and recklessness in the face of an enemy.

For these reasons, on this occasion too, they left only the necessary guard for their own stockade, and with the rest surrounded the enemy's camp at several points and boldly attacked it all at once.

With danger pressing unexpectedly from every side, and the palisade already being torn apart in some places, Garsyeris, seeing what was happening and holding out little hope for the whole situation, sent his cavalry out through a spot that was left unguarded.

The Selgians, supposing that these men were dismayed and were withdrawing in fear of what was to come, paid them no attention but simply disregarded them.

But the horsemen rode around, got to the rear of the enemy, fell upon them, and laid into them with vigor.

When this happened, Garsyeris's infantry took heart, and although they had already been put to flight, they turned about once more and beat back those who were rushing in on them.

As a result the Selgians, now surrounded on all sides, finally broke into flight.

At the same moment the Pednelissians attacked the troops left behind at the Selgian stockade and drove them out.

Since the flight extended over a great distance, no fewer than ten thousand fell. Of the survivors, all the allies fled to their own homes, while the Selgians escaped through the mountains to their native land.

Chapter 74 Panic at Selge

Garsyeris broke camp and followed close on the heels of the fleeing men, eager to get through the difficult passes and draw near to the city before the fugitives could halt and form any plan to deal with his arrival.

And so he came with his army up to the city.

The Selgians, despairing now of their allies because of the disaster they had all suffered together, and shaken in spirit by the misfortune that had occurred, were utterly terrified both for themselves and for their country.

For this reason they came together in assembly and resolved to send as their envoy one of their citizens, Logbasis, who had long been an intimate friend and guest-friend of the Antiochus who lost his life in Thrace; and since Laodice, who later became the wife of Achaeus, had been entrusted to his keeping, he had reared her as his own daughter and had shown the girl extraordinary affection.

For these reasons the Selgians, thinking they had in him a man supremely suited to serve as envoy given the circumstances, sent him out.

But he, having obtained a private interview with Garsyeris, was so far from helping his country as he ought, in line with his commission, that on the contrary he urged Garsyeris to send in all haste for Achaeus, undertaking to deliver the city into their hands.

Garsyeris, then, eagerly seizing on this prospect, sent men to Achaeus to bring him and to inform him of the present state of affairs; and toward the Selgians he made a truce and dragged out the time of the negotiations, continually raising disputes and pretexts over matters of detail, so as to wait for Achaeus to arrive and to give Logbasis room to carry on his dealings.

Chapter 75 Achaeus At Selge

[...] and to prepare for the attempt. During this period, as the two sides came together for parley more and more often, the men from the camp grew accustomed to slipping into the city to buy grain.

This is the very thing that has already, for many people and on many occasions, been a cause of ruin. And it seems to me that of all animals man is the most easily deceived, though he is reputed to be the most cunning.

For how many camps and garrisons, how many and how great cities, have been betrayed in just this way?

And although such things have happened to so many people so often and so plainly, somehow we are always, every one of us, fresh and new to deceptions of this kind.

The cause of this is that we do not keep ready at hand the disasters of those who have stumbled before us in each kind of case; rather, we lay up—with much toil and expense—abundance of grain and money, and provision of walls and weapons, against the unexpected turns of events, while the one thing that is easiest of all to acquire and that renders the greatest service in perilous moments, this we all neglect—and that too when we could, amid dignified relaxation and pleasant pastime, gain such experience from history and inquiry.

In any case, Achaeus arrived in good time, and the Selgians, on meeting with him, conceived great hopes of obtaining some thoroughgoing show of goodwill.

But Logbasis, during this same period, had little by little gathered into his own house some of the soldiers slipping in from the camp, and he advised his fellow citizens not to let the opportunity pass, but to act with their eyes on the goodwill being displayed by Achaeus, and to put the finishing touch to the agreement after deliberating about the situation with the whole people present.

Chapter 76 Death of Logbasis

The assembly was quickly convened, and they began to deliberate, having summoned in as well all the men from the guard posts, so as to bring the business before them to completion. But Logbasis, having given the enemy the signal for the moment, was making ready the men gathered in his house, and was himself, together with his sons, arming and equipping himself for the fight.

On the enemy's side, Achaeus, with half the force, advanced toward the city itself, while Garsyeris took the remainder and led them on toward the place called the Cesbedium. This is a sanctuary of Zeus, and it lies conveniently above the city, for it takes the form of a citadel.

But when a goatherd happened to observe what was happening and reported it to the assembly, some rushed in haste to the Cesbedium, others to the guard posts, while the mass of the people, in their anger, made for the house of Logbasis.

When the plot became plain, some of them climbed up onto the roof, others forced their way through the courtyard doors, and they murdered Logbasis and his sons, and at the same time all the others there as well.

After this they proclaimed freedom to the slaves, divided themselves into groups, and rushed to defend the strategic points.

Garsyeris, then, seeing that the Cesbedium was already occupied ahead of him, gave up his attempt; and as Achaeus was forcing his way right up to the gates, the Selgians sallied out, struck down seven hundred of the Mysians, and beat back the rest from their assault.

After this action Achaeus and Garsyeris withdrew to their own camp, while the Selgians, fearing both the factional strife among themselves and the enemy's encampment against them, sent out their elders with suppliant branches, made a truce, and brought the war to an end on these terms: that they pay four hundred talents at once, along with the Pednelissian prisoners, and after some time add a further three hundred.

So the Selgians, having endangered their country through the impiety of Logbasis, by their own daring both preserved their country and did not disgrace their freedom, nor the standing they possessed as kinsmen of the Spartans.

Chapter 77 Expedition of Attalus

[their] kinship with the Spartans. Achaeus, having brought Milyas and the greater part of Pamphylia under his control, broke camp and, on arriving at Sardis, waged continuous war against Attalus, kept up his threats against Prusias, and made himself an object of fear and oppression to all who dwelt on this side of the Taurus.

Now at the very time when Achaeus was conducting his campaign against the Selgians, Attalus, with the Aegosagae Gauls in his force, marched through the cities of Aeolis and those bordering on them—all the cities that had earlier gone over to Achaeus out of fear.

Of these, the greater number joined him willingly and even with goodwill, while a few had to be compelled by force.

The cities that went over to him at that time were, first, Cyme, Smyrna, and Phocaea; after these the people of Aegae and Temnus came over, struck with alarm at his advance.

Ambassadors also arrived from the Teians and Colophonians, putting themselves and their cities into his hands.

He received these too on the same terms as before and took hostages; but he dealt especially kindly with the envoys from Smyrna, because they above all had kept faith with him.

Continuing his advance without a break, he crossed the river Lycus and pushed on toward the settlements of the Mysians, and from there he came to Carseae.

Having overawed its people, and likewise those guarding the Twin Walls, he took over these positions as well, Themistocles handing them over—the man who happened to have been left by Achaeus as commander of this district.

Setting out from there and ravaging the plain of Apia, he crossed the mountain called Pelecas and encamped near the river Megistus.

Chapter 78 Attalus Conciliates the Gauls

While he was here, an eclipse of the moon occurred. The Gauls, who had long been chafing at the hardships of the marches—since they were conducting the campaign together with their wives and children, who followed them in the wagons— now took the event as an omen and declared they would advance no farther.

King Attalus, who got no real service of any consequence out of them and saw that they straggled apart during the marches, encamped on their own, and in general refused obedience and were full of arrogance, fell into no ordinary perplexity.

For on the one hand he was anxious that they might defect to Achaeus and join in attacking his affairs, and on the other he was wary of the ill repute that would dog him if he surrounded his soldiers and destroyed all the men who were thought to have made the crossing into Asia in reliance on his own pledge.

Therefore, seizing on the aforementioned pretext, he promised that for the present he would restore them to the crossing and would give them a well-suited place for settlement, and that afterward he would lend them his aid in whatever they might ask of him that lay within his power and was honorable.

So Attalus, having restored the Aegosagae to the Hellespont and dealt kindly with the people of Lampsacus, Alexandria, and Ilium because they had kept faith with him, returned [with his army to Pergamum].

Chapter 79 Forces Available to Antiochus and Ptolemy

Antiochus and Ptolemy, as the spring season was setting in and their preparations were ready, set about deciding the conflict by battle.

Ptolemy's forces, then, set out from Alexandria with some seventy thousand infantry, five thousand cavalry, and seventy-three elephants.

Antiochus, learning of their advance, gathered his own forces together. These were: Daae, Carmanians, and Cilicians, equipped in light-armed fashion, about five thousand in number; over these Byttacus the Macedonian held both charge and command.

Under Theodotus the Aetolian, the man who had carried out the betrayal, were ten thousand men picked from the whole kingdom and armed in the Macedonian manner; most of these were Silver Shields.

The strength of the phalanx came to some twenty thousand, led by Nicarchus and Theodotus called Hemiolius.

In addition to these there were Agrianians and Persian archers and slingers, two thousand. With them were a thousand Thracians, led by Menedemus of Alabanda.

There were also Medes, Cissians, Cadusians, and Carmanians, in all about five thousand, who were assigned to obey Aspasianus the Mede.

The Arabs and some of their neighbors numbered about ten thousand, and were under the command of Zabdibelus.

The mercenaries from Greece were led by Hippolochus the Thessalian, and numbered about five thousand.

He had fifteen hundred Cretans with Eurylochus, and a thousand Neo-Cretans under the command of Zelys of Gortyna; along with them were five hundred Lydian javelin-men and a thousand Cardaces under Lysimachus the Gaul.

The whole body of cavalry came to some six thousand; of these, Antipater, the king's nephew, held command of four thousand, while Themison was set over the rest.

The total strength of Antiochus's army was sixty-two thousand infantry, together with six thousand cavalry, and a hundred and two beasts.

Chapter 80 Antiochus Advances To Raphia

Ptolemy, making his march toward Pelusium, at first halted at that city.

Then, having taken up the stragglers who trailed behind and issued the army its grain rations, he set it in motion and advanced, marching along Mount Casius and the so-called Barathra through the waterless region.

Completing the journey to his objective on the fifth day, he encamped fifty stades from Raphia, which, after Rhinocolura, is the first of the cities of Coele-Syria as one comes from Egypt.

At the same time Antiochus arrived with his army; having reached Gaza and taken on additional forces there, he again advanced at a steady pace. Passing the aforesaid city, he encamped by night, about ten

stades from the enemy.

At first, then, set at this distance, they remained encamped opposite each other.

But after some days Antiochus, wishing both to take up more favorable ground and to instill confidence in his forces, moved his camp up against Ptolemy's, so that the palisades were no more than five stades apart.

During this time there were frequent clashes over the watering-places and the foraging, and likewise skirmishes broke out between the camps, sometimes of cavalry, sometimes of infantry as well.

Chapter 81 Theodotus Attempts to Assassinate Ptolemy

At about this same time Theodotus undertook a bold and resourceful stroke—one thoroughly Aetolian in character, yet by no means lacking in courage.

Since from having formerly lived at the king's court he knew well what Ptolemy's tastes and daily habits were, he made his way, with two companions, into the enemy's camp just before dawn.

By his face he could not be recognized, because of the darkness; and by his dress and the rest of his equipment he attracted no notice, because among the enemy themselves the costume of the army was of every variety.

Having marked out the position of the king's tent during the preceding days—for the skirmishing took place right up close to it—he made boldly for it, and passed undetected through the whole front rank of attendants.

But when he came upon the tent in which the king was accustomed to conduct business and to dine, and had searched every part of it, he failed to find the king; for Ptolemy took his rest apart, outside the official tent used for audiences.

He did, however, wound two of the men sleeping there, and killed Andreas, the king's physician; then he withdrew safely to his own lines, meeting with only a brief alarm as he was already crossing back over the rampart.

So far as daring went, he had carried out his design; but in foresight he had failed, because he had not properly ascertained where Ptolemy was in the habit of taking his rest.

Chapter 82 Dispositions For the Battle of Raphia

The two kings, after lying encamped opposite each other for five days, both resolved to decide the issue by battle.

As soon as Ptolemy's forces began to move out of their camp, Antiochus at once led his own out to meet them. Both kings drew up their phalanxes and their picked troops, who were armed in the

Macedonian fashion, directly facing each other.

Ptolemy's two wings were arranged in the following manner. Polycrates, with the cavalry under his command, held the left wing; between him and the phalanx, and right beside the cavalry, stood the Cretans; next to these was the royal guard; and after them the peltasts under Socrates, adjoining the Libyans who were armed in the Macedonian fashion.

On the right wing was Echecrates the Thessalian, with the cavalry under his command; and beside him, on his left, were stationed the Gauls and Thracians; next to these Phoxidas held the mercenaries from Greece, who linked up with the Egyptian phalangites.

Of the elephants, forty were posted on the left, where Ptolemy himself intended to take part in the fighting, while thirty-three had been drawn up in front of the right wing, facing the enemy's mercenary cavalry.

Antiochus, for his part, posted sixty of his elephants, under his foster-brother Philip, in front of his right wing, where he himself intended to engage against Ptolemy's troops.

Behind these he stationed the two thousand cavalry commanded by Antipater, and drew up another two thousand at an angle to them.

In line with the cavalry, at the front, he placed the Cretans; next to these he posted the mercenaries from Greece; and beside these, alongside the troops armed in the Macedonian fashion, he stationed the five thousand men under Byttacus the Macedonian.

On the left wing, at its very tip, he placed two thousand cavalry under the command of Themison; beside them the Cardaces and the Lydian javelin-men; next to these the light-armed troops under Menedemus, about three thousand in number; after these the Cissians, Medes, and Carmanians; and beside them the Arabs together with the neighboring peoples, who linked up with the phalanx.

The remaining elephants he posted in front of his left wing, putting them under the command of Myiscus, one of the former royal pages.

Chapter 83 Each King Exhorts His Army

With their forces drawn up in this manner, both kings rode along the front of their own lines, accompanied by their officers and friends, exhorting the men.

Since each placed his highest hopes in his phalangites, both devoted the greatest effort and encouragement to these ranks in particular— on Ptolemy's side with Andromachus, Sosibius, and the king's sister Arsinoe joining in the exhortation, and on Antiochus's side with Theodotus and Nicarchus doing the same, since in each army these were the men who held the command of the phalangites.

The substance of what each king urged was much the same. Neither of them could put before the men any distinguished or honored exploit of his own, since both had only recently come to power; so

instead, by recalling the glory of their ancestors and the deeds those ancestors had performed, they tried to instill spirit and confidence in their phalangites.

Above all, they set before them the hopes of advancement they might expect in time to come, and—addressing the leaders individually and all those about to fight collectively—they called upon and exhorted them to face the coming danger like men, with courage and nobility.

Speaking these words and others like them, partly in their own person and partly through interpreters, they rode along the lines.

Chapter 84 The Elephants in the Battle

When Ptolemy, accompanied by his sister, had ridden along and reached the left wing of his whole array, and Antiochus with the royal squadron had reached the right, they sounded the signal for battle and opened the fight first with the elephants.

Only a few of Ptolemy's elephants came to close quarters with those of the enemy. Mounted on these, the men in the towers put up a fine fight, thrusting and striking at one another at close range with their pikes; and finer still was the struggle of the beasts themselves, which fought with brute force, meeting head to head.

For the manner in which these animals fight is as follows. Locking together and interlacing their tusks, they shove with all their might, each straining to hold its ground, until one of them, prevailing in strength, forces aside the other's trunk; and once it has thrown its opponent off balance and caught it sideways, it gores it with its tusks, just as bulls do with their horns.

But most of Ptolemy's elephants shrank from the fight, as is the way with Libyan elephants.

For they cannot endure the smell and the trumpeting of the Indian elephants, but—terrified, I suppose, by their size and strength—they flee from them at once while still some distance off; and that is exactly what happened on this occasion.

As these beasts were thrown into disorder and pushed back against their own ranks, Ptolemy's guard, pressed by the elephants, began to give way; while Antiochus's men, wheeling around past the elephants and bearing down on them, charged into Polycrates and the cavalry drawn up under his command.

At the same time, on the inner side of the elephants, the Greek mercenaries stationed by the phalanx fell upon Ptolemy's peltasts and drove them out, the beasts having by now thrown their ranks too into confusion.

Thus Ptolemy's left wing was, in this way, worsted.

Chapter 85 Victory of Ptolemy

Under this pressure the whole wing gave way. Echecrates, who commanded the right wing, at first waited to see how the clash of the two wings already mentioned would turn out. But when he saw the dust being carried in the direction of his own troops, and that the elephants on his side would not even venture to approach the enemy's elephants at all, he ordered Phoxidas, who had the mercenaries from Greece, to engage the troops drawn up directly opposite him, while he himself, leading the cavalry and the men stationed behind the elephants out around the flank, got clear of the elephants' charge; and falling upon the enemy's cavalry—in some places riding past them, in others charging them on the flank—he quickly put them to flight.

Phoxidas and his men did much the same: charging the Arabs and the Medes, they forced them to turn and flee headlong.

So the right wing of Antiochus's army was victorious, while its left was being defeated in the manner already described.

The phalanxes, now stripped of both their wings, remained intact in the middle of the plain, their hopes for the outcome hanging in the balance.

At this moment Antiochus was caught up in pressing home his advantage on the right wing, while Ptolemy, who had withdrawn behind the shelter of his phalanx, now came forward into the center and, showing himself to the armies, struck terror into the enemy and inspired great drive and eagerness in his own men.

So Andromachus and Sosibius and their men at once lowered their sarissas and advanced.

The picked troops of the Syrian army held out for only a short time, while the men under Nicarchus quickly broke and gave ground.

But Antiochus, young and inexperienced as he was, supposing that because he was winning in his own sector he was likewise victorious everywhere else, kept pressing on after the fleeing enemy.

At last one of the older men checked him and pointed out the dust being carried from the phalanx toward their own camp; only then, grasping what was happening, did he try to gallop back with the royal squadron to the place of battle.

But finding that all his own men had fled, he made his retreat to Raphia, convinced that he had won in his own part of the field, and reckoning that he had lost the battle as a whole through the baseness and cowardice of the rest.

Chapter 86 The Losses on Each Side

Ptolemy, having decided the whole issue by means of his phalanx, and having killed many of the enemy in the pursuit with the cavalry and mercenaries of his right wing, then withdrew and spent the night in his existing camp.

The next day, after taking up and burying his own dead and stripping the bodies of the enemy, he broke camp and advanced toward Raphia.

Antiochus, after his flight, wished at once to make camp outside the city and to rally those who had fled in their formations; but since most had made their retreat into the city, he too was forced to enter it.

Then, near daybreak, he led out the surviving portion of his army and pushed on to Gaza. Pitching camp there and sending envoys about recovering the dead, he buried the fallen under a truce.

Of Antiochus's men the dead numbered not much short of ten thousand infantry and more than three hundred cavalry, while over four thousand were taken alive.

Of his elephants, three died on the spot and two from their wounds. On Ptolemy's side about fifteen hundred infantry were killed and about seven hundred cavalry; sixteen of his elephants died, and most of them were captured.

Such, then, was the outcome of the battle fought at Raphia between the kings over Coele-Syria.

After recovering the dead, Antiochus withdrew with his army to his own territory, while Ptolemy took over Raphia and the other cities at the first assault, all the communities competing with one another to be the first to come over and shift their allegiance to him.

Now perhaps all people are inclined at such moments to adapt themselves somehow to the circumstances of the present; but the race of men inhabiting that region is especially well disposed and quick to seize on the favors offered by the occasion.

And at that time, since their goodwill toward the kings from Alexandria already ran ahead of events, it was natural that this should happen: for the populations of Coele-Syria have always somehow leaned more toward this house than any other.

And so they left no extreme of flattery untried, honoring Ptolemy with crowns, sacrifices, altars, and every device of that kind.

Chapter 87 A Year's Truce Between Antiochus and Ptolemy

Antiochus, on arriving at the city that bears his own name, at once sent Antipater his nephew and Theodotus Hemiolius as envoys to Ptolemy to treat for peace and a settlement, being anxious about an advance by the enemy: for he distrusted his own people because of the defeat he had suffered, and he feared that Achaeus might seize the moment to join in the attack on him.

But Ptolemy reasoned out none of this. Delighted with the success he had won—on account of its unexpectedness—and, in a word, at having unexpectedly gained possession of Coele-Syria, he was not averse to peace; rather he was more inclined to it than he should have been, drawn that way by the indolence and dissoluteness habitual to his way of life.

So when Antipater and his colleague arrived, after a little blustering and reproaching Antiochus for what had been done, he agreed to a truce of one year.

He sent Sosibius along with the envoys to ratify the settlement, and he himself, after spending three months in the regions of Syria and Phoenicia and putting the cities in order, then left Andromachus of Aspendus as governor over all the aforesaid territories and set out with his sister and his friends for Alexandria, having brought the war to a conclusion in a way that, to those in his kingdom, seemed at odds with the way he conducted the rest of his life.

Antiochus, having secured the terms of the truce with Sosibius, proceeded—according to his original purpose—with his preparations against Achaeus.

Such, then, was the state of affairs in Asia.

Chapter 88 Earthquake At Rhodes

The Rhodians, around the period just mentioned, seized upon the opportunity afforded by the earthquake that had struck them a short time before, in which the great Colossus and most of the walls and dockyards happened to fall.

They handled what had happened so sensibly and practically that the disaster became for them a cause not of harm but rather of improvement.

So great, among men, is the difference that ignorance and idleness make as against care and good judgment, both in private lives and in public affairs: for the one, even successes bring harm, while for the other, even reverses become a means of recovery.

At any rate, the Rhodians then, in their management of the matter, made the disaster out to be great and terrible, while they themselves bore themselves with dignity and authority in their embassies—both in their formal audiences and in conversation case by case—and so brought the cities, and especially the kings, to such a point that they not only received extravagant gifts but actually left the givers owing them gratitude.

Hiero and Gelo, for instance, not only gave seventy-five talents of silver toward the supply of oil for those in the gymnasium—part at once, the rest within a very short time entirely—but also dedicated silver cauldrons with their stands and some water vessels, and on top of this ten talents for sacrifices and another ten to help increase the citizen body, so that the whole gift might come to a hundred talents.

Moreover, they granted exemption from duties to those sailing to their ports, and gave fifty catapults three cubits long.

And finally, after giving so much, as though they still owed gratitude, they set up statues in the Rhodian Exchange showing the people of Rhodes being crowned by the people of Syracuse.

Chapter 89 Royal Gifts

[...] of the Syracusans. Ptolemy too promised them three hundred talents of silver and a million artabae of grain; ship timber for ten quinqueremes and ten triremes, amounting to forty thousand cubits, by measure, of squared pine planking; a thousand talents of bronze coinage, three thousand talents of tow, three thousand bolts of sailcloth; for the rebuilding of the Colossus, three thousand talents, a hundred master builders and three hundred and fifty laborers, and for these, each year, fourteen talents toward their wages; and besides this, for the games and the sacrifices, twelve thousand artabae of grain, and moreover, for the provisioning of ten triremes, twenty thousand artabae.

Of all this he gave the greater part at once, and a third of the entire sum of silver.

In much the same spirit Antigonus promised ten thousand timbers, ranging from sixteen cubits down to eight in length, to serve as rafters; five thousand crossbeams seven cubits long; three thousand talents of iron; a thousand talents of pitch; a thousand metretae of the same pitch unboiled; and, in addition to these, a hundred talents of silver.

His wife Chryseis gave a hundred thousand measures of grain and three thousand talents of lead.

Seleucus, the father of Antiochus, granted, for his part, exemption from tolls to those of them who sailed into his kingdom, and separately ten fully fitted-out quinqueremes and two hundred thousand measures of grain; and moreover tens of thousands of cubits of timber and thousands of talents of resin and hair.

Chapter 90 Generosity of Other Princes

Prusias and Mithridates acted in much the same way, and so too did the rulers who held power in Asia at that time—I mean Lysanias, Olympichus, and Limnaeus.

As for the cities that helped them to the best of their ability, no one could easily even count their number; so that whenever one considers the time, and the starting point from which their city came to be settled, one cannot but greatly marvel at how, in so short a span, it had won so great an advance both in the private fortunes of its citizens and in the public affairs of the city; yet whenever one looks instead at the favorable situation of the site, and the contributions from outside that brought its prosperity to fullness, one no longer marvels, but rather feels that the advance fell a little short of what might have been expected.

Let this, then, be said by me with a twofold purpose: first, for the sake of the Rhodians' management of public affairs—for they deserve both praise and emulation—and second, to show the small giving of the kings of our own day and the small receiving of the nations and cities, so that the kings may not, by laying out four or five talents, suppose they are doing something great and expect to enjoy the same goodwill and honor from the Greeks that the kings of earlier times possessed, and so that the cities,

keeping before their eyes the magnitude of the gifts bestowed in former times, may not now, for small and trivial benefactions, unwittingly award the greatest and finest honors, but may rather try to keep for each man what his desert deserves—the very thing in which the Greeks most excel the rest of mankind.

Chapter 91 Lycurgus Returns to Sparta

Just as the summer season was setting in, with Agetas serving as strategus of the Aetolians and Aratus having taken over the strategia of the Achaeans—for it was at this point that we broke off our account of the Social War—Lycurgus the Spartan returned once more from Aetolia.

For the ephors, having found false the slander on account of which he had fled, sent for Lycurgus and recalled him once again.

He, then, was assigned to act together with Pyrrhias the Aetolian—who happened at the time to be general among the Eleans—regarding the invasion of Messenia.

Aratus, for his part, had taken over the Achaeans' mercenary force in a ruined state, and the cities slackly disposed toward the contributions for this purpose, because the general before him, Eperatus, as I said above, had managed the common affairs badly and listlessly.

Nevertheless, after exhorting the Achaeans and obtaining a decree on these matters, he set energetically to work on the preparations for the war.

This is what the Achaeans resolved: to maintain eight thousand mercenary infantry and five hundred cavalry, and, of the Achaean picked troops, three thousand infantry and three hundred cavalry; and of these, the Megalopolitans were to furnish bronze-shielded men—five hundred infantry and fifty cavalry—and the Argives an equal number.

It was also resolved that ships should put to sea: three around Acte and the Argolic gulf, and three off Patrae and Dyme and the sea in that quarter.

Chapter 92 Lycurgus Cannot Take Messenia

So Aratus was occupied with these affairs and was completing these preparations; while Lycurgus and Pyrrhias, after an exchange of messages to ensure that they made their expedition on the same days, advanced into Messenia.

The general of the Achaeans, perceiving their design, came with the mercenaries and some of the picked troops to Megalopolis to support the Messenians.

Lycurgus, setting out, took Calamae, a stronghold of the Messenians, by treachery, and after this pressed forward, hastening to join the Aetolians.

But Pyrrhias, who had marched out of Elis entirely lightly equipped and was at once stopped at the pass into Messenia by the Cyparissians, turned back.

Therefore Lycurgus, being unable to join up with Pyrrhias' force and not being strong enough on his own, after making brief assaults on Andania, withdrew again to Sparta without having accomplished anything.

Aratus, now that the enemy's plan had collapsed, acting sensibly and taking thought for the future, arranged with Taurion to provide fifty cavalry and five hundred infantry, and with the Messenians that they should send out an equal number of cavalry and infantry, intending to use these men to guard the territory of the Messenians, the Megalopolitans, the Tegeans, and also the Argives— for these lands, bordering on Laconia, lie exposed, ahead of the rest of the Peloponnesians, to the war waged by the Spartans— while with the Achaean picked troops and the mercenaries he would guard the parts of Achaea facing toward Elis and Aetolia.

Chapter 93 Condition of Megalopolis

Having settled these matters, Aratus also resolved the disputes among the Megalopolitans with one another in accordance with the decree of the Achaeans.

For it happened that these people, having recently been ruined by Cleomenes and—as the saying goes —shaken from their very foundations as a state, were in need of many things and short of everything.

In their spirit they held firm, but in their resources, both public and private, they were unable to meet any demand.

For this reason everything was full of quarreling, rivalry, and mutual anger; for this is exactly what tends to happen, both in public affairs and in private lives, whenever resources fall short of each person's ambitions.

First, then, they disputed over the walling of the city. One party argued that it ought to be contracted and made only as large as they could realistically manage to wall and could defend when a crisis arose; for in the recent disaster, they said, it was precisely the city's size and its emptiness that had brought about their ruin.

In addition to this, they thought the landowners ought to contribute a third of their land toward settling the new inhabitants who were to be enrolled.

The other party would neither agree to make the city smaller nor consent to contribute a third of their holdings.

But above all they quarreled with one another over the laws drafted for them by Prytanis, whom Antigonus had given them as their lawgiver, and who was one of the distinguished men of the Peripatetic school and of that philosophical persuasion.

Such being the nature of the dispute, Aratus gave it all the attention he could and put an end to their contentiousness.

The terms on which they ended their differences with one another they inscribed on a stele and set up beside the altar of Hestia in the Homarium.

Chapter 94 Aetolian Raids

After settling these disputes, Aratus broke camp and came in person to the assembly of the Achaeans, while he handed the mercenaries over to Lycus of Pharae, since this man was at that time the deputy commander of the local confederate district.

But the Eleans, dissatisfied with Pyrrhias, once again brought in Euripidas as their general from the Aetolians.

He, watching for the time of the Achaean assembly, took sixty cavalry and two thousand infantry, set out, and passing through the territory of Pharae, overran the country as far as the district of Aegium.

After rounding up a considerable amount of plunder, he began his withdrawal in the direction of Leontium.

But Lycus and his men, on learning what had happened, came to the rescue in haste; engaging the enemy and joining battle on the spur of the moment, they cut down about four hundred of them and took about two hundred alive, among whom were the notable men Physsias, Antanor, Clearchus, Androlochus, Euanoridas, Aristogeiton, Nicasippus, and Aspasius; and they captured all their arms and baggage.

At about the same time the Achaean admiral, having made an expedition to Molycria, returned with little short of a hundred captives.

Then, turning back again, he sailed to Chalceia and captured, from those who sailed out to oppose him, two warships together with their crews; and near Rhium he also took an Aetolian cutter along with its complement.

Since the spoils both by land and by sea came in around the same time, and a sufficient revenue and supply of provisions was gathered from them, the soldiers grew confident about receiving their pay, and the cities grew hopeful that they would not be burdened by levies.

Chapter 95 More Raids

At the same time as the events just described, Scerdilaidas, believing himself wronged by the king because some of the money agreed upon under the terms he had arranged with Philip was still owed to him, sent out fifteen galleys, undertaking the recovery of the money by means of a trick.

These sailed to Leucas, where everyone received them as friends on account of the joint operations they had previously carried out together.

Now, they had no time to do any other harm, nor were they able to; but against Agathinus and Cassander, the Corinthians who were sailing in Taurion's ships and had anchored alongside them as friends with four vessels, they treacherously launched an attack, and seizing the men together with their ships, they sent them off to Scerdilaidas.

After this they put out from Leucas and, sailing toward Malea, plundered and carried off the merchants they met.

As harvest time was now approaching, and as Taurion and his men were neglecting the protection of the cities just mentioned, Aratus, with his picked troops, kept watch over the gathering of the grain around the territory of Argos, while Euripidas, with his Aetolians, set out, intending to ravage the territory of the Tritaeans.

But Lycus and Demodocus, the Achaean cavalry commander, on learning of the Aetolians' expedition out of Elis, gathered the men of Dymae, Patrae, and Pharae, and together with these and the mercenaries, invaded Elean territory.

Arriving at the place called Phyxium, they sent forward their light-armed troops and cavalry to raid the countryside, but concealed their heavy infantry around the aforesaid place.

When the Eleans sallied out in full force against the raiders and pressed hard upon them as they withdrew, Lycus and his men rose up and fell upon those who had rushed forward.

The Eleans did not withstand the charge, but turned and fled at the mere sight of them; the Achaeans killed about two hundred of them, took eighty alive, and brought back in safety the plunder that had been driven off.

At the same time the Achaean admiral, making repeated landings on both Calydonia and the territory of Naupactus, ravaged the countryside and twice shattered the force sent to oppose him.

He also captured Cleonicus of Naupactus, who, because he was a proxenus of the Achaeans, was not sold off on the spot, and after some time was released without ransom.

Chapter 96 Agetas Leads the Aetolians Against Acarnania

About the same time Agetas, the general of the Aetolians, having called up the Aetolians in a general levy, plundered the territory of the Acarnanians and proceeded to ravage all of Epirus without hindrance.

Having accomplished this, he returned and dismissed the Aetolians to their cities.

The Acarnanians, making a counter-invasion into the territory of Stratus, were overcome by a panic and returned in disgrace, though without any loss, since the people of Stratus did not dare to pursue them, supposing that their withdrawal was being made to lure them into an ambush.

A case of counter-treachery also occurred at Phanoteus, in the following manner. Alexander, who had been put in charge of Phocis by Philip, organized an operation against the Aetolians through a certain Jason, who happened to have been placed by him in command of the city of Phanoteus.

This Jason sent word to Agetas, the general of the Aetolians, and agreed to hand over to them the citadel at Phanoteus, and concerning this he swore oaths and made a compact.

When the appointed day arrived, Agetas came by night to Phanoteus with his Aetolians, and after hiding the rest at a distance, he stayed back, while selecting a hundred of the fittest men he sent them to the citadel.

Jason, meanwhile, had Alexander ready with soldiers inside the city, and taking the young men in accordance with the oaths, he led them all up into the acropolis.

When Alexander and his men at once burst in upon them, the picked Aetolians were captured; and Agetas, when daylight came and he understood what had happened, led his force back again, having fallen victim to a stratagem not unlike the ones he himself had often employed.

Chapter 97 Philip Secures His Frontier

At about this same time King Philip seized Bylazora, the largest city of Paeonia and very conveniently positioned with respect to the passes leading from Dardania into Macedonia, so that by this stroke he was very nearly freed altogether from his fear of the Dardani.

For it was no longer easy for them to invade Macedonia while Philip controlled the approaches through the city just mentioned.

Having secured this place, he sent Chrysogonus off in haste to muster the upper Macedonians, while he himself, taking up the men of Bottia and Amphaxitis, came to Edessa. There he waited until the Macedonians under Chrysogonus joined him, then set out with his whole army and arrived at Larisa on the sixth day.

Pressing straight on with a hard night march, he reached Meliteia at dawn, and, setting scaling ladders against the walls, he tried to storm the town.

By the suddenness and surprise of the attack he so terrified the Meliteians that he would easily have taken the town; but because the ladders fell far short of the height required, he was cheated of his attempt.

Chapter 98 Importance of Careful Measurement

It is in failures of this sort that one might most of all blame the commanders.

For if certain men, taking no forethought and never measuring out the walls, cliffs, or other such obstacles by which they intend to make their entry, simply turn up on the spot, unprepared, to capture a city—who would not censure them?

And again, if men who have measured their own side of the matter then hand over the construction of the ladders, and of such devices generally—things that take little labor to make but are put to the proof in a great undertaking—carelessly and to any chance persons, how can it not deserve reproach?

For in operations of this kind it is not possible either to do what is needed or else to suffer nothing serious; rather, harm follows upon failure in many ways: at the very moment of the action, danger to the bravest of the men, and still greater danger during the withdrawal, once the troops have been treated with contempt.

There are many—indeed very many—examples of such things: one would find that, of those who fail in attempts of this kind, more have perished or been brought to the utmost peril than have come off unharmed.

As for the future, moreover, they unquestionably breed distrust and hatred against themselves, and besides they put everyone on his guard; for not only those who have suffered, but also those who merely learn of what happened, are thereby in a sense warned to take heed and be on their watch.

For this reason men placed in positions of responsibility should never undertake such schemes lightly.

The method of measuring and of constructing such equipment is easy and reliable, provided it is taken in hand methodically.

For the present, then, I must resume the thread of my narrative; but on this kind of subject I shall, taking up a suitable time and place again in the course of my work, try to show how one might best avoid mistakes in undertakings of this sort.

Chapter 99 Capture of Thebes In Phthiotis

Philip, cheated of that attempt, encamped beside the river Enipeus and gathered up the siege equipment from Larisa and the other cities, which he had had prepared during the winter for the siege; for the whole purpose of his campaign was to capture the city called Phthiotic Thebes.

This city lies not far from the sea, about three hundred stades distant from Larisa, and is conveniently placed in relation to both Magnesia and Thessaly—commanding in particular, in Magnesia, the territory of the Demetrians, and in Thessaly, that of the Pharsalians and the Pheraeans.

From it, at that very time, while the Aetolians held it and made continual raids, great harm was being done to the Demetrians, the Pharsalians, and the Larisaeans as well; for they often pushed their forays as far as the plain called Amyric.

For this reason Philip, regarding it as no small matter, made great efforts to take the place by storm.

When a hundred and fifty catapults and twenty-five stone-throwing engines had been assembled, he advanced upon Thebes, and dividing his army into three parts he took up the ground around the city: with one division he encamped near Scopium, with another near the place called Heliotropium, and the third he posted by the mountain overlooking the city; the spaces between the camps he fortified, sectioning them off with a trench and a double palisade, and he further secured them with wooden towers, stationing these at intervals of a plethron with a sufficient guard.

Next, after these works, he brought all his equipment together and began to move the engines up against the citadel.

Chapter 100 Thebes Renamed Philippopolis

For the first three days he was unable to push forward any of the works, owing to the brave, even reckless, resistance of the men in the city.

But when, through the unceasing skirmishing and the volleys of missiles, the defenders of the city who fought in the forefront were—some killed, others disabled by wounds—and a brief slackening of the defense followed, the Macedonians then began their mining.

By sheer persistence, although the ground worked against them, they barely reached the wall on the ninth day.

After this, carrying on the work in relays so as to break off neither by day nor by night, in three days they had undermined and shored up with timber two plethra of the wall.

When the props could not bear the weight but gave way, the wall came down before the Macedonians had even set fire to them.

When they had vigorously cleared away the rubble of the collapse and made their preparations for the entry, and were now on the very point of forcing their way in, the Thebans took fright and surrendered the city.

By this success Philip secured the situation in Magnesia and Thessaly and stripped the Aetolians of rich plunder; he also proved to his own forces that he had been right to put Leontius and his associates to death for their earlier deliberate treachery in the siege of the Palaeans.

Having become master of Thebes, he sold its existing inhabitants into slavery, and, settling Macedonians in their place, renamed the city Philippopolis instead of Thebes.

When he had already completed his arrangements at Thebes, envoys came once again to discuss terms —from the Chians, the Rhodians, and the Byzantines, and from King Ptolemy.

Giving them answers much like those he had given before, and declaring that he was not averse to a settlement, he sent them off, telling them to sound out the Aetolians as well.

He himself, however, cared little for a settlement, and held firmly to pursuing the next stages of his designs.

Chapter 101 Philip Hears of Thrasymene

And so, hearing that the light galleys of Scerdilaidas were raiding the waters off Malea and treating every merchant as an enemy, and that he had even broken the treaty by seizing some of Philip's own ships that lay at anchor with them at Leucas, Philip fitted out twelve decked warships, eight undecked vessels, and thirty light craft known as hemioliae, and sailed through the Euripus, eager to catch the Illyrians and, in general, full of high hopes for his plans regarding the war against the Aetolians—since he still knew nothing of what had taken place in Italy.

For it happened that, at the very time Philip was besieging Thebes, the Romans were being defeated by Hannibal in the battle in Etruria, though the report of these events had not yet reached the Greeks.

Philip arrived too late for the galleys, and so anchored off Cenchreae. He sent away his decked warships with orders to make the voyage around Malea toward Aegium and Patrae, while he had the remaining vessels hauled across the Isthmus and ordered them all to lie at anchor at Lechaeum.

He himself hurried with his friends to Argos to attend the Nemean festival.

He had only just begun watching the gymnastic contest when a courier arrived from Macedonia making it plain that the Romans had lost a great battle and that Hannibal was master of the open country.

For the moment he showed the dispatch to Demetrius of Pharos alone, charging him to keep silent.

Demetrius seized this opening and urged that Philip ought to throw off the war against the Aetolians as quickly as possible and instead hold fast to affairs in Illyria and to a crossing into Italy.

Chapter 102 Philip and the Aetolians Discuss Peace

For all of Greece, he said, was already doing Philip's bidding and would continue to do so afterward—the Achaeans out of genuine goodwill, the Aetolians cowed by what had befallen them in the present war— while Italy and the crossing there, he said, were the beginning of the design for universal dominion, to which no one had a better claim than Philip; and now, he said, was the very moment, with the Romans having stumbled. By using such arguments he quickly fired Philip's ambition—naturally enough, I think, given that Philip was a young king who had been successful in his enterprises and was reckoned bold in general, and who, on top of this, sprang from a house that has always, more than any other, somehow aspired to dominion over the whole world.

In any case, Philip, as I have said, at that time disclosed the news brought by the letter to Demetrius alone. Afterward he gathered his friends and opened a debate about coming to terms with the Aetolians.

And since Aratus and his party were not opposed to such a settlement—on the view that they would be making peace as the stronger party in the war— the king, without even waiting any longer for the ambassadors who were jointly handling the negotiations, at once sent Cleonicus of Naupactus to the Aetolians— for he found him still lingering, after his release from captivity, awaiting the meeting of the Achaean assembly—while he himself took the ships and the land force from Corinth and came with them to Aegium.

Advancing to Lasion and taking the tower in the Perippia, he pretended he was going to invade Elis, so as not to seem too ready to bring the war to an end.

After this, when Cleonicus had gone back and forth two or three times, and the Aetolians begged that he meet them in conference, Philip consented; and laying aside all the operations of war, he sent couriers to the allied cities, calling on them to send delegates who would sit in council and take part in the joint discussion about the settlement.

He himself crossed over with his force and encamped near Panormus—a harbor of the Peloponnese lying directly opposite the city of Naupactus—and waited for the delegates of the allies.

Chapter 103 Philip Goes to Naupactus

During the time in which these delegates were to assemble, he sailed to Zacynthus and on his own authority settled the affairs of the island, and then returned, sailing back again. When the delegates had now gathered, he sent Aratus, Taurion, and some of those who had come along with them to the Aetolians.

They joined the Aetolians, who were assembled in full numbers at Naupactus, and after a brief discussion, seeing how eager they were for a settlement, sailed back to Philip to report on the matter.

The Aetolians, anxious to end the war, sent envoys along with them to Philip, asking him to come to them with his force, so that, with the conference conducted at close hand, affairs might reach a fitting conclusion.

Moved by these appeals, the king sailed across with his force to the place called the Hollows of Naupactus, which is about twenty stades from the city.

There he encamped, enclosed both his ships and his camp with a palisade, and waited for the time of the meeting.

The Aetolians came in full numbers but without their arms, and keeping about two stades away from Philip's camp, sent messages and held discussions about the matters at hand.

At first the king sent out all the delegates who had come from the allies, instructing them to propose peace to the Aetolians on these terms: that both sides keep what they now held.

The Aetolians readily accepted this, and from then on there was a continuous exchange of messages between them about the particulars.

Chapter 104 The Cloud in the West

Most of these I shall pass over, since they contain nothing worth recording, but I shall make mention of the exhortation of Agelaus of Naupactus, which he delivered at the first meeting before both the king and the allies present. He said that the best thing of all would be for the Greeks never to make war on one another, but to be deeply grateful to the gods if, all speaking with one voice and joining hands like men fording a river, they might be able to beat off the assaults of the barbarians and so preserve themselves and their cities.

But if that was altogether impossible, then at least for the present he asked them to be of one mind and on their guard, foreseeing the weight of the armaments and the magnitude of the war now massing in the west.

For it was plain, he said, to anyone who paid even moderate attention to public affairs that, whether the Carthaginians defeated the Romans or the Romans the Carthaginians in the war, it was in no way likely that the victors would rest content with dominion over the Italians and the Sicilians; rather, they would come and extend their designs and their forces farther than they ought. He therefore asked them all to be on guard against the crisis, and above all Philip.

And the way to guard against it, he said, was for Philip to abandon the aim of crushing the Greeks and making them easy prey for those who attacked them, and instead to take thought for them as he would for his own person, and in general to look after all parts of Greece as belonging and akin to himself.

For if he handled affairs in this way, the Greeks would be well disposed toward him and steadfast allies in his enterprises, while those outside Greece would be less inclined to plot against his power, dismayed by the loyalty of the Greeks toward him.

And if he longed for action, he urged him to look to the west and to fix his attention on the wars now raging in Italy, so that, biding his time prudently as one who waits in reserve, he might at the right moment make his bid for dominion over the whole world.

And the present moment, he said, was not unsuited to such a hope.

He urged Philip to put off his quarrels and wars with the Greeks to times of peace, and to make this his chief concern: to keep the power, whenever he wished, both to make peace and to make war with them — because, if he once allowed the clouds now appearing from the west to settle upon the regions of Greece, he greatly feared that the truces and wars and, in a word, all the games we now play against one another would be so utterly struck from the hands of us all that we should pray to the gods to

grant us this very power: to make war and to make peace with one another whenever we wished, and in general to be masters of the disputes among ourselves.

Chapter 105 The Peace is Ratified

By speaking in this way, Agelaus spurred all the allies toward a settlement, and Philip most of all, since he used arguments well suited to the inclination that had already been prepared in him by the urgings of Demetrius.

And so, having reached a mutual understanding among themselves on the particular terms and having ratified the settlement, they parted, each carrying back to his own homeland peace in place of war.

All these things happened in the third year of the 140th Olympiad—I mean the battle of the Romans in Etruria, that of Antiochus over Coele-Syria, and besides these the settlement between the Achaeans and Philip on the one side and the Aetolians on the other.

This moment in time, and this single deliberation, were the first to weave together the Greek and the Italian affairs, and the Libyan ones as well.

For from now on neither Philip nor the leading statesmen of the Greeks made their wars and their settlements with one another by reference to affairs within Greece; instead they were all already fixing their gaze on the situation in Italy.

Before long the same thing happened to the islanders and the inhabitants of Asia as well.

For those who were dissatisfied with Philip, and some of those who were at odds with Attalus, no longer leaned toward Antiochus and Ptolemy, nor toward the south and the east, but from this time on looked toward the west; and some sent embassies to the Carthaginians, others to the Romans.

In the same way the Romans too sent embassies to the Greeks, fearing Philip's audacity and taking care that he should not join in attacking them amid the crisis that then surrounded them.

Now that I have, I think, shown clearly—in keeping with my promise at the outset—when, how, and for what reasons the affairs of Greece became interwoven with those of Italy and Libya, it remains for me to carry the narrative of Greek affairs forward continuously, down to the time when the Romans were defeated at the battle of Cannae, the point at which I brought the account of Italian affairs to its climax; and there I will close this book as well, bringing it level with the events already described.

Chapter 106 Greece At the End of the Social War

As soon as the Achaeans had laid the war aside, they chose Timoxenus as their general and withdrew to their own customs and ordinary pursuits.

Together with the Achaeans, the other cities throughout the Peloponnese likewise set about recovering their private livelihoods, tending their land, and reviving their ancestral sacrifices, festivals, and the other religious observances established among each people.

For these things had all but fallen into oblivion among most of them, owing to the unbroken succession of the wars that had gone before.

Indeed I do not know how it has always somehow come about that the Peloponnesians, who of all men are by nature the most suited to a gentle and civilized life, have in earlier times enjoyed it least of all; rather, as Euripides puts it, they were always "men sold to toil and never at rest from the spear."

This, it seems to me, they suffer with good reason: for being all of them by nature fond of leadership and of freedom, they fight one another continually, never willing to yield the first place.

The Athenians, on the other hand, had been released from their fears of Macedonia and now believed they held their freedom securely.

Taking Eurycleidas and Micion as their leading men, they took no part whatever in the rest of Greek affairs, but, following the policy and the impulses of these statesmen, poured out their flattery upon all the kings, and most of all upon Ptolemy.

They submitted to every kind of decree and proclamation, paying little heed to what was fitting, because of the poor judgment of their leaders.

Chapter 107 Revolt in Egypt

As for Ptolemy, immediately after these events he found himself drawn into a war with the Egyptians.

For the aforesaid king, by arming the Egyptians for the war against Antiochus, had taken a decision adequate for the moment but mistaken as to the future.

Emboldened by their success at Raphia, they were no longer willing to submit to orders, but began looking for a leader and a figurehead, on the grounds that they were capable of defending themselves. And this is just what they did, not long afterward.

Antiochus, after making great preparations during the winter, then crossed the Taurus when the following summer came, and, having made a compact of joint action with King Attalus, set about the war against Achaeus.

The Aetolians at first were pleased with the settlement that had been reached with the Achaeans, since the war had not gone according to their expectations—which is also why they chose as their general Agelaus of Naupactus, who was thought to have contributed most to the settlement—but after no time at all they grew dissatisfied and reproached Agelaus, on the grounds that he had cut off all their opportunities for profit from abroad and their hopes for the future, since the peace had been made not with certain particular states but with all the Greeks.

The aforesaid man, however, bearing up under this unreasonable resentment and blame, held their impulses in check; and so they were forced to restrain themselves, against their nature.

Chapter 108 Philip's Preparations

King Philip, after the settlement, was conveyed back by sea to Macedonia, where he found that Scerdilaïdas—on the pretext of money still owed to him, the same pretext on which he had broken the treaty by seizing the vessels near Leucas—had now plundered a town of Pelagonia called Pissaeum, had brought over cities of Dassaretis, some by fear and some by promises—Antipatria, Chrysondyon, and Gertous—and had overrun much of the part of Macedonia bordering on these places as well.

He at once set out with his army, eager to recover the cities that had revolted, and in general resolved to make war on Scerdilaïdas, considering it absolutely essential to put the situation in Illyria in order with a view both to his other designs and, above all, to his crossing into Italy.

For Demetrius kept fanning this hope and this design in the king so constantly that Philip even dreamed of these things in his sleep and was wholly absorbed in such projects.

Demetrius did this not for Philip's sake—to him he assigned perhaps only a third share in the matter—but rather out of his own hostility toward the Romans, and most of all for his own sake and his private hopes.

For he was convinced that only in this way could he recover his dominion in Pharos.

In any case, Philip took the field and recovered the cities mentioned above, and captured besides Creonion and Gerous in Dassaretis; Enchelanae, Cerax, Sation, and Boii around Lake Lychnidus; Bantia in the territory of the Calicoeni; and, among the people called the Pisantini, Orgessus.

Having accomplished this, he dismissed his forces to their winter quarters. This was the winter during which Hannibal, having ravaged the most renowned regions of Italy, was about to make his winter quarters near Gerunium in Daunia.

The Romans at that time appointed as their generals Gaius Terentius and Lucius Aemilius.

Chapter 109 Philip Prepares to Invade Italy

During the winter, Philip reflected that his plans would require ships and a force to serve at sea—though not for fighting a naval battle.

He could never have hoped to be capable of that, of fighting the Romans at sea; what he needed instead was a fleet that could ferry soldiers, cross quickly to whatever point he intended, and appear before the enemy unexpectedly.

Concluding, therefore, that the Illyrian style of shipbuilding was best suited to these purposes, he set about constructing a hundred light galleys—being almost the first of the Macedonian kings to do so.

Once these were ready, he assembled his forces at the beginning of summer, and after giving the Macedonians a little practice at the oars he put out to sea.

It was at this same time that Antiochus crossed the Taurus, while Philip, sailing through the Euripus and around Cape Malea, came to the region of Cephallenia and Leucas. There he came to anchor and waited anxiously, busily seeking news of the Roman fleet.

Learning that it lay at anchor off Lilybaeum, he took heart and put to sea, advancing on his course toward Apollonia.

Chapter 110 Philip Withdraws to Cephallenia

As he was already drawing near the area of the river Aous, which flows past the city of the Apolloniates, a panic broke out among his crews much like those that occur in armies on land.

Some of the galleys sailing at the rear of the fleet, which had put in at the island called Sason—lying at the entrance to the Ionian channel—came to Philip by night reporting that certain ships sailing from the Strait had anchored there alongside them, and that these men reported leaving behind at Rhegium some Roman quinqueremes bound for Apollonia and for Scerdilaidas.

Philip, supposing that the fleet was all but upon him, was seized with fear; he hastily weighed anchor and gave the order to sail back the way he had come.

Making his withdrawal and return voyage in complete disorder, he reached Cephallenia on the second day, sailing continuously day and night.

Recovering a little of his confidence, he stayed there, creating the impression that he had turned back for some operations in the Peloponnese.

As it happened, the whole alarm about him proved to be false.

For Scerdilaidas, hearing that during the winter Philip was building a considerable number of galleys, and expecting him to come by sea, had sent messages to the Romans explaining this and asking for help; and the Romans had dispatched a squadron of ten ships from their fleet off Lilybaeum—this being the very squadron that had been sighted near Rhegium.

Had Philip not fled from it in such groundless terror, that would have been the very moment when he could best have accomplished his aims in Illyria, since the Romans were occupied with all their plans and preparations against Hannibal and the battle at Cannae; and in all likelihood he would also have captured the ships.

As it was, thrown into confusion by the report, he made his way back to Macedonia—without harm, but without honor.

Chapter 111 The Gauls In Asia

At about this same time something happened involving Prusias that deserves to be recorded.

The Gauls whom King Attalus had brought over from Europe for the war against Achaeus, because of their reputation for bravery, had parted from that king on account of the suspicions just mentioned, and were ravaging the cities along the Hellespont with great wanton violence, until at last they even set about besieging the people of Ilium.

In these circumstances a noble action was performed by the inhabitants of Alexandria in the Troad as well.

For they sent out Themistes with four thousand men, raised the siege of Ilium, and drove the Gauls out of the whole Troad by cutting off their supplies and frustrating their designs.

The Gauls then seized the place called Arisba in the territory of Abydos, and from there went on plotting against and making war on the cities founded in that region.

Against them Prusias marched out with an army, and in a pitched battle he destroyed the men in hand-to-hand fighting during the engagement itself, slaughtered nearly all their children and women in their camp, and let his soldiers who had done the fighting plunder the baggage.

By this action he freed the cities of the Hellespont from great fear and danger, and he left behind a fine example to later generations, warning the barbarians of Europe not to take crossing into Asia lightly.

Such, then, was the state of affairs in Greece and Asia. In Italy, after the battle of Cannae had been fought, most of the country went over to the Carthaginians, as I have shown in the earlier parts of this work.

At this point in time I shall break off my narrative, since I have now covered the events in Asia and Greece that fell within the 140th Olympiad.

In the book that follows, after briefly recalling the introductory matters laid out here, I shall return, in accordance with the promise made at the outset, to the account of the Roman constitution.

Book VI

Actors wearing ancestral wax portrait masks (imagines) at a Roman aristocratic funeral in the Forum. Book VI, 53–54.

Chapter 1 Preface: Political Constitutions

Having halted our narrative at this point, we will set out our account of the Roman constitution, in which we will show, step by step, that the distinctive character of their political system contributed more than anything else not only to their winning dominion over the Italians and Sicilians, but also to their further acquisition of rule over the Iberians and the Gauls, and finally, after they had defeated the Carthaginians in war, to their conceiving the design of universal empire.

But when, in working through the Greek affairs that took place during the same Olympiad, we reach this period, then at last, taking it up as a subject in its own right, we will give our account of the Roman constitution itself, believing that an exposition of it is not only suited to the design of our history, but also contributes greatly to the reform and construction of constitutions, for those men who are eager to learn and active in public affairs.

And one might well be puzzled as to what the reason is that the Romans, although they have now mastered the whole world and possess a superiority many times greater than before, could nevertheless neither man so many ships nor put to sea with such great fleets as they once did.

The causes of this difficulty, however, will be clearly understandable when we come to the exposition of their constitution.

Concerning this matter—which touches on certain aspects of their military affairs—we have already spoken at greater length earlier, in our discussion of the constitution.

This (the college of the Salii) is, as we have stated in our discussion of the constitution, one of the three colleges through which the most distinguished sacrifices to the gods are performed at Rome.

Chapter 2 Why the Constitution Is Examined Now

I am well aware, then, that some will be puzzled as to why, abandoning the unbroken thread of our narrative—the joining and adding on of events—we have deferred to this point our account of the constitution mentioned above.

But that this part too was, from the very beginning, one of the necessary components of my whole design, I think I have made clear in many passages, and most of all in the foundation and preliminary statement of my history, where I said that this was the finest, and at the same time the most useful, feature of my undertaking for readers of the work: to know and learn how, and by what kind of

constitution, nearly the whole inhabited world was overcome and fell under the single rule of the Romans in not even a full fifty-three years—something that is found never to have happened before.

This being settled, I could see no time more suitable than the present for pausing to examine and test what is going to be said about the constitution.

For just as those who form private judgments about whether men are worthless or worthy, whenever they genuinely set out to test them, base their inquiry not on the untroubled ease of ordinary life, but on the reversals of misfortune and the successes of good fortune, regarding this alone as the true touchstone of a complete man—the ability to bear the total reversals of fortune with greatness of soul and nobility—in just the same way one must examine a constitution as well.

For this reason, since I could see no sharper or greater change in our times than the one that befell the Romans, I have reserved for this moment my account of the matters mentioned above; and one may grasp the magnitude of that change from what follows. [...]

What both engages the mind and brings benefit to lovers of learning is precisely this: the study of causes, and the choice of the better course in each case.

And in every undertaking we must regard the structure of the constitution as the greatest cause both of success and of its opposite; for from it, as from a fountainhead, all the conceptions and undertakings of any enterprise not only spring, but also reach their completion.

For only in a falsehood does impossibility not even admit of excuse for those who err.

Chapter 3 Classification of Constitutions

As for the Greek states, which have often risen to greatness and have often undergone a complete reversal into the opposite condition, it proves easy both to give an account of their past and to pronounce upon their future; for it is easy to report what is already known, and easy to predict the future by conjecturing from what has already happened.

But concerning the Roman state it is not at all easy either to describe the present situation, owing to the complexity of its constitution, or to foretell the future, owing to our ignorance of the distinctive features of their past, both in public and in private life.

For this reason it calls for no ordinary attention and study, if one is to gain a clear and comprehensive view of its distinctive features.

Now it happens that most of those who wish to instruct us authoritatively on such matters speak of three kinds of constitutions, of which they call one kingship, another aristocracy, and the third democracy.

But it seems to me that one might quite reasonably raise a question against them: whether they propose these to us as the only constitutions, or indeed as the best.

For on both counts they seem to me to be mistaken. For it is clear that we must regard as best the constitution composed of all the features just mentioned; and of this we have had proof not in theory only but in practice, since Lycurgus was the first to construct the Spartan constitution on this principle.

Nor again must we accept these as the only forms: for we have already seen certain monarchical and tyrannical governments which, though they differ as much as possible from kingship, nevertheless seem to bear some resemblance to it; and it is on this ground that all monarchs falsely lay claim to, and make use of, the title of king as far as they are able.

And again, there have been many oligarchic governments that seem to bear some resemblance to aristocratic ones, from which, one might almost say, they differ as widely as possible.

Chapter 4 The Rotation of Polities

And the same argument applies also to democracy. That what I say is true is evident from the following.

For surely not every monarchy is to be called a kingship outright, but only the one that is accepted by willing subjects and is governed more by reason than by fear and force; nor, again, is every oligarchy to be considered an aristocracy, but only the one that is directed, through deliberate selection, by the most just and most prudent men.

In the same way, we should not call it a democracy where the whole multitude has the power to do whatever it happens to wish and resolve. Rather, where it is the ancestral and customary practice to revere the gods, to care for one's parents, to respect one's elders, and to obey the laws—in such communities, when the will of the majority prevails, this is what we must call a democracy. And so we must say that there are six kinds of constitutions: the three that everyone harps on, which have just been mentioned, and three more akin to these—I mean monarchy, oligarchy, and mob-rule.

First, then, monarchy arises spontaneously and by nature; and following upon it, and born from it through development and correction, comes kingship.

But when this changes into the evil naturally allied to it—I mean into tyranny—then in turn, from the dissolution of these, aristocracy springs up.

And again, when this has by its nature degenerated into oligarchy, and the people in their anger have avenged the injustices of their leaders, democracy is born.

And from the insolence and lawlessness of this, in turn, mob-rule is brought to fulfillment in the course of time.

One could grasp most clearly that these things are truly as I have just described by attending to the natural beginnings, origins, and changes of each.

For only the person who has understood how each of them comes into being could also understand the growth, the prime, and the transformation of each, and its end—when, how, and where it will come round again.

And I have supposed that this method of exposition will suit the Roman constitution best of all, because from the very beginning it took on both its formation and its growth in accordance with nature.

Chapter 5 The Origin of Constitutions

The natural process by which the various forms of government transform into one another is perhaps analyzed more precisely by Plato and certain other philosophers. But their account is intricate and developed at great length, so that few can follow it.

For this reason I will try to set out, in summary form, only as much of the matter as I judge relevant to a practical history and to the understanding of ordinary people.

And if my general overview should seem to leave anything out, the detailed discussion in what follows will make ample amends for whatever is left unresolved here.

What, then, are the origins I mean, and from what source do I say constitutions first arise?

Whenever floods, outbreaks of plague, crop failures, or other causes of this kind bring about a destruction of the human race—such as tradition tells us has happened before, and as reason tells us will happen again and again— then, with all customs and skills perishing together, and when in the course of time a multitude of people grows up once more from the survivors, as though from seeds, then, as with the other animals, these people too gather together. And it is only natural that they too, in their natural weakness, should band together with their own kind. In such circumstances it is inevitable that the one who excels in bodily strength and boldness of spirit should lead and rule the rest, just as we observe among the other species of animals that lack reason—and this we must regard as the truest work of nature, since among them we see, by common agreement, the strongest taking the lead: I mean bulls, boars, cocks, and creatures like them.

It is likely, then, that in the beginning the lives of human beings were of this sort: gathering together like animals and following the most vigorous and powerful among them, whose authority was bounded only by strength, and whose rule one might call monarchy.

But when, with the passage of time, a sense of fellowship and familiarity grew up within these communities, this became the seed of kingship; and then, for the first time, the idea of what is noble and just—and likewise of their opposites—arose among human beings.

Chapter 6 Origin of Morality and Rule

The manner in which these notions begin and come into being is as follows.

All creatures are driven by nature toward sexual union, and the result is the begetting of children. Now whenever one of these offspring, having been raised and reached maturity, shows no gratitude and offers no protection to those who reared him, but instead sets about insulting or harming them, it is clear that those who are present and who have witnessed the care and hardship the parents devoted to the rearing and nurturing of their children will likely be displeased and offended.

For since the human race differs from the other animals in that it alone possesses intelligence and reason, it is plain that men, unlike the other animals, will not let such a difference of conduct pass unnoticed.

Rather, they will take note of what happens and feel displeasure at it, since they look ahead to the future and reason that the same thing could befall any one of them.

So too, when someone who has received help or rescue from another in time of danger shows no gratitude to his preserver, but even attempts to harm him, it is clear that those who know of it will likely be displeased and offended with such a man—sympathizing with their fellow and imagining the same thing happening to themselves.

From all this there arises in each person some notion of the meaning and theory of duty, which is the beginning and end of justice.

Likewise, again, when someone stands out as the defender of all in times of danger and holds his ground against the assaults of the fiercest beasts, it is likely that such a man will receive marks of the people's goodwill and esteem, while the man who acts otherwise will meet with their condemnation and disapproval.

From this, in turn, it is reasonable that there should arise among the many some understanding of the base and the noble, and of the difference between them—the one to be pursued and imitated for the benefit it brings, the other to be shunned.

And when the leader, the man who holds the greatest power, consistently lends his support to these popular judgments, and so appears to his subjects to be one who allots to each man what he deserves, then they no longer submit out of fear of force, but rather give their willing consent of mind, supporting his rule and helping to preserve it—even when he has grown quite old—rallying with one accord to his defense and fighting against any who plot against his sovereignty.

And in this way, without anyone noticing, a king emerges from a monarch, once reason has taken over leadership from raw spirit and strength.

Chapter 7 How Kingship Turns into Tyranny

This is the first conception of the noble and the just—and of their opposites—to arise naturally among human beings; this is the beginning and origin of genuine kingship.

For the people preserve the rule not only of such men themselves, but of their descendants as well, persuaded that those born from and raised by men of this kind will share their principles.

But if at some point they become displeased with the descendants, from then on they make their choice of rulers and kings no longer according to bodily and spirited strength, but according to differences of judgment and reason, having learned from actual experience the difference between the two.

In ancient times, then, those who had once been chosen and granted this office grew old in their kingships, fortifying strong positions and building walls and acquiring territory—partly for security, and partly for an abundant supply of necessities for their subjects.

And while they devoted themselves to these things, they remained free of all slander and envy, because they made no great distinctions in their dress, food, or drink, but lived much like everyone else, always sharing the same way of life as the common people.

But once they began to inherit their positions by succession and birth, and found the means of security already prepared for them, along with more than enough for their sustenance, then, following their appetites because of this abundance, they came to think that rulers ought to have clothing distinct from that of their subjects, distinctive and elaborate indulgences and provisions at the table, and unchallenged access to the sexual favors and embraces even of those they had no right to.

These things gave rise in some cases to envy and offense, in others to a blaze of hatred and bitter anger, so that the kingship turned into a tyranny.

Chapter 8 Degeneration of Constitutions

The first step toward its dissolution was taken, and a conspiracy began to form against the rulers— a conspiracy that arose not from the worst men, but from the noblest, most high-minded, and most courageous, because such men are least able to endure the abuses of those in power. And when the people gained leaders and joined forces with them against the rulers for the reasons already described, the form of kingship and monarchy was utterly destroyed, while aristocracy in turn took its beginning and origin.

For the people, as though repaying an immediate debt of gratitude to those who had overthrown the monarchs, employed them as their leaders and entrusted their affairs to them.

At first these men gladly accepted the charge and put nothing ahead of the common good, managing every matter—both private and public—with care and watchfulness on behalf of the people.

But when their children inherited this same authority from their fathers—having no experience of hardship, no experience at all of civic equality and freedom of speech, and having been raised from the start amid their fathers' power and privileges— some of them turned to greed and unjust love of money, others to drunkenness and the insatiable feasting that goes with it, and others to the violation of women and the abduction of boys. And so they transformed the aristocracy into an oligarchy, and they quickly stirred up among the people feelings much like those just described. For this reason the end of their downfall turned out to be much like the misfortune that befell the tyrants.

Chapter 9 How Democracy Arises and Degenerates

Whenever someone, perceiving the envy and hatred that the citizens feel toward their rulers, then grows bold enough to say or do something against those in power, he finds the whole populace ready and eager to lend its support.

After that, having killed some of these rulers and driven others into exile, they do not dare to set up a king again, since they still dread the injustice of those who ruled before; nor do they have the confidence to entrust public affairs to a number of men, with the recent example of that folly fresh before their eyes.

So, with the only untainted hope left to them being the one that rests on themselves, they turn to this course: they transform the constitution from an oligarchy into a democracy, and take the management of public affairs and the public trust into their own hands.

As long as any survive who experienced the dominance and arbitrary power of the few, they are content with the present order and prize equality of speech and freedom of speech above all else.

But once a new generation has come along, and the democracy has been handed down to the children of children, then, through familiarity, they no longer set such great store by equality and freedom of speech, and they seek to have more than the common people. The ones who fall into this most of all are those who excel in wealth.

So when they set their hearts on holding office and cannot attain it through their own efforts and their own merit, they squander their fortunes, enticing and corrupting the masses in every possible way.

By this means, once they have made the many greedy for bribes and accustomed to feeding on them through their own foolish craving for honor, then once again democracy is dissolved, and it gives way to force and mob rule.

For the populace, grown used to feeding on the property of others and resting its hopes of livelihood on its neighbors' goods, as soon as it finds a leader of high ambition and daring—one shut out from the honors of public life by poverty—then brings about rule by the mob.

And then, banding together, it commits massacres, banishments, and redistributions of land, until, reduced to utter savagery, it once more finds a master and a monarch.

This is the cycle of constitutions, this is the ordering set by nature, according to which forms of government change, pass from one to another, and come round again to where they began.

A man who has clearly grasped this may perhaps be mistaken about the timing when he speaks of the future of a constitution, but as for the point of growth or of decay that each has reached, or the direction in which it will change, he will rarely be wrong, provided he makes his judgment free of anger or envy.

And indeed it is in the case of the Roman constitution above all that, by this method of inquiry, we may come to understand its formation, its growth, its peak, and likewise the change into the opposite that will follow from these.

For if any constitution ever did, this one too, as I said just now, having had its formation and growth from the beginning according to nature, will also undergo its change into the contrary according to nature.

This will be possible to observe through what is to be said hereafter.

Chapter 10 Lycurgus

For now I will make a brief mention of the legislation of Lycurgus, since this discussion is not foreign to my purpose.

For that man, having taken to heart that each of the developments described above comes about necessarily and naturally, and having reasoned that every form of constitution that is simple and rests on a single kind of power is precarious—because it is quickly perverted into the vice that is its own and that follows it by nature— just as rust is the dissolvent inborn in iron, and woodworms and grubs in timber, by which, even if they escape all external harm, they are destroyed by the very things that grow up within them— in the same way, in each of the constitutions there is by nature bred and attendant some particular vice: in kingship, the form called monarchic (despotism); in aristocracy, that of oligarchy; and in democracy, the bestial and mob-ruled form. Into these it is impossible that all the aforementioned constitutions should not, in the course of time, undergo their transformations, according to the argument just given.

Foreseeing this, Lycurgus did not make his constitution simple or of a single type, but gathered together all at once the virtues and distinctive features of the best forms of government, so that no element, growing beyond what was due, should be perverted into the vices that are akin to it; but rather, with the power of each held in check by the others, none of them should incline anywhere or weigh down too far, but the constitution should remain in equilibrium and balanced for a long time, like a ship beating against the wind— the kingship being prevented from growing arrogant by fear of the people, since the people too had been given a sufficient share in the constitution; and the people in turn not daring to despise the kings, out of fear of the elders, who, having been chosen by selection on the grounds of merit, were always bound to attach themselves to what was just, so that the party of

those at a disadvantage, by holding fast to established custom, always became greater and weightier through the leaning and support of the elders.

And so, having framed it in this way, he preserved freedom for the Spartans for the longest time of any people we know of.

He, then, foreseeing by a process of reasoning the source and manner in which each thing naturally comes about, established the aforesaid constitution without harm.

The Romans, on the other hand, have arrived at the same end—the order of their own state— yet not through reasoning, but through many struggles and difficulties, ever choosing the better course from the very knowledge gained amid reverses; and thus they came to the same end as Lycurgus, the finest political system of any in our time.

Chapter 11 The Roman Constitution

From the crossing of Xerxes into Greece [...] and thirty years later; from that time on it was continually being refined in its particular features, and it reached its finest and most perfect form in the era of the war with Hannibal—the point from which I made this digression.

Therefore, now that I have given the account of how it came to be put together, I will try to make clear what its character was in those years, in which the Romans, defeated at the battle of Cannae, came to grief in their affairs as a whole.

I am well aware that to those who actually live under this constitution I shall seem to give a somewhat incomplete account of it, since I leave out some of the particular details.

For, knowing every part of it and having had experience of all of it through having been brought up from childhood in its customs and laws, they will not be impressed by what is said, but will look for what has been left out; and they will not suppose that the writer has deliberately omitted the small distinctions, but rather that he has passed over in silence the origins and the essential workings of things out of ignorance.

The things I do say, they would not have admired as being trifling and incidental; but the things I omit, they single out as essential, wishing to appear to know more than the historians themselves.

But a good critic ought not to judge writers by what they leave out, but by what they say; and if he catches any falsehood in this, he should recognize that those omissions too are due to ignorance, but if everything that is said is true, he should grant that those things too are passed over by deliberate judgment and not out of ignorance.

So much, then, let this be said by me against those who criticize historians more out of rivalry than out of fairness.

Every matter, when examined in its proper context, receives sound approval and sound criticism alike; but if that context shifts and the matter is judged against other circumstances, then what historians have often said in the best and truest way may appear not only unacceptable but not even tolerable.

There were, then, three elements that controlled the constitution, all of which I have mentioned before; and everything was so fairly and fittingly ordered and administered, part by part, through these elements, that no one—not even a native—could ever say with certainty whether the constitution as a whole was aristocratic, democratic, or monarchic.

And this was a natural thing to experience. For whenever we fixed our attention on the power of the consuls, it appeared to be completely monarchic and kingly; whenever on that of the Senate, aristocratic again; and indeed, if one looked at the power of the people, it seemed clearly to be democratic.

As for the matters over which each of these parts of the constitution had control, they were then, and with a few exceptions still are, as follows.

Chapter 11a Fragments on Pallantium, Ostia, and Demaratus

They give this town the name Pallantium, after their mother-city in Arcadia; but, as some relate—among them Polybius of Megalopolis—it was named after a youth named Pallas who died there. This Pallas was the son of Heracles and of Launa, the daughter of Evander; and his grandfather on his mother's side, having heaped up a tomb for him on the hill, named the place Pallantium after the youth.

For they did not think it enough, as Polybius of Megalopolis did, merely to say this much: "I am persuaded that Rome was founded in the second year of the seventh Olympiad," nor to leave the proof untested, resting on a single tablet—one and only one—kept in the custody of the high priests.

Aristodemus of Elis and his school relate that it was from the twenty-seventh Olympiad onward that the athletes—those, that is, who were victors—began to be recorded; for before that no one was recorded, since earlier generations had neglected to do so. In the twenty-eighth Olympiad Coroebus of Elis, winning the stadion race, was the first to be recorded; and that Olympiad was ranked as the first from which the Greeks count their dates. Polybius relates the same things as Aristodemus does. And among the Romans, as Polybius says in his sixth book, women are forbidden to drink wine, but they drink what is called passum. This is made from the dried grape (raisin), and when drunk it is much like the sweet Aegosthenian wine and the Cretan; and so they use it to relieve pressing thirst. It is impossible for a woman to escape notice if she has drunk wine. For in the first place a woman has no authority over wine; and besides this, she is obliged to kiss her own kinsmen and those of her husband, down to the children of cousins, and to do this every day, whenever she first sees them. And then, since it is uncertain whom she will meet, she is on her guard; for if she has merely tasted it, there is no further need of accusation.

He also founded the city of Ostia on the Tiber.

Polybius, in his sixth book. [Stephanus of Byzantium, under “Ostia.”]

Lucius, the son of Demaratus the Corinthian, set out for Rome trusting in himself and in his wealth, convinced that he would hold a position second to none in public life because of certain advantages, and having a wife who was useful both in other respects and as a naturally gifted partner in every practical undertaking. On arriving in Rome and obtaining citizenship, he at once adapted himself to winning the king’s favor. And quickly, both through his wealth and through his natural cleverness, and most of all through his upbringing from childhood, he attached himself to the man in power and won great acceptance and trust with him. As time went on he came to such a degree of being received that he jointly managed and handled with Marcius the affairs of the kingdom. In this position, proving a benefit to everyone, working together with those in need and helping to secure for them whatever was useful, and at the same time using the resources of his living generously, suitably, and at the right moment on each occasion, he stored up gratitude in many quarters and worked goodwill in all, and won a reputation for nobility of character—and he attained the kingship as well.

He acted as a prudent and sensible man does, in recognizing, as Hesiod says, “how much the half is greater than the whole.”

For learning to be truthful toward the gods is a foundation for truth toward one another.

For in most human enterprises, those who have acquired things are well suited to preserving them, while those who have received them ready-made are well suited to losing them.

Chapter 11b Fragments on Courage and Olcium

All the works of virtue ought to be practiced from childhood by those who train themselves well, and above all courage.

Olcium, a city of Etruria: Polybius in his sixth book. [Stephanus of Byzantium, under “Olcium.”]

Chapter 12 The Consuls

The consuls, before leading out the legions, while present in Rome, are masters of all public business.

For all the other magistrates, except the tribunes, are subordinate to them and obey them; and it is the consuls who introduce the embassies to the Senate.

In addition to what has been said, they refer the urgent matters of deliberation to the Senate, and they carry out the entire handling of its decrees.

Moreover, as for everything that must be accomplished through the people in matters bearing on public affairs, it falls to them to see to it and to convene the assemblies, to bring in the decrees, and to

give effect to whatever the majority decides.

And indeed, with regard to the preparation for war and the whole management of operations in the field, they hold what is virtually absolute authority.

For it is within their power to impose on the allies whatever they think fit, to appoint the military tribunes, to enroll the soldiers, and to select those who are suitable.

Besides what has been mentioned, they are empowered to punish anyone they wish among those under their command while in the field.

They also have the authority to spend as much of the public funds as they choose, with a quaestor accompanying them who readily carries out every order.

So that one might reasonably say, whenever one looks at this portion, that the constitution is simply monarchic and kingly.

And if any of these powers, or of those that are about to be described, should undergo some change, either at the present time or after some interval, this would have no bearing on the statement we are now making.

Chapter 13 The Senate

The Senate, first of all, has control of the treasury. It manages all incoming revenue and likewise all expenditure.

For the quaestors cannot make any disbursement for the various departments of the state without a decree of the Senate, the one exception being payments to the consuls.

And of the single greatest and most comprehensive item of expenditure by far—the one the censors make every five years for the repair and construction of public works—the Senate has control, and it is through the Senate that the censors are granted these funds.

Likewise, whatever crimes committed in Italy call for a public inquiry—I mean such things as treason, conspiracy, poisoning, and assassination—are the concern of the Senate. And beyond this, if any private individual or any community in Italy needs a dispute settled, or indeed a penalty imposed, or assistance, or protection, all of these matters are the Senate's responsibility.

So too, if it is necessary to dispatch an embassy to any people outside Italy—whether to reconcile parties, or to issue an appeal, or indeed to give commands, or to receive a surrender, or to declare war—the Senate is the body that sees to it.

In the same way, when embassies arrive in Rome, how each is to be dealt with and what answer is to be given them is all handled through the Senate. None of the matters just described involves the people at all.

For these reasons, in turn, anyone visiting Rome while no consul is present would conclude that the constitution is a complete aristocracy.

This is precisely what many of the Greeks, and likewise many of the kings, have come to believe, since nearly all the business they have is settled by the Senate.

Chapter 14 The People

Given all this, one might reasonably ask what role at all is left to the people in the constitution, when the Senate has authority over the particular matters we have described, and—most important of all—manages the whole of revenue and expenditure; and when the consuls, again, have unchecked power over the preparations for war and unchecked authority in the field.

Nevertheless, a role is left to the people too, and a most weighty one at that.

For the people alone in the constitution have control of honor and of punishment—the very things by which, and by which alone, dynasties and constitutions, and in short the whole life of humankind, are held together.

For where this distinction either goes unrecognized or, when recognized, is badly managed, nothing within the existing order can be administered rationally. For how could it be, when the good are held in equal honor with the wicked?

The people, then, sit in judgment, often in cases involving a fine, whenever the penalty for the offense is substantial—especially against those who have held high office. And in capital cases the people are the sole judges.

In this connection there is a practice among them that deserves praise and commemoration. For those tried on a capital charge, once they are being condemned, are permitted by their custom to depart openly, even if a single one of the tribes whose votes ratify the verdict has not yet cast its vote—thereby sentencing themselves to voluntary exile.

Safety is guaranteed to such exiles in the cities of the Neapolitans and the Praenestines, and also of the Tiburtines, and in the other cities with which Rome has sworn agreements.

Furthermore, it is the people who confer offices on those who deserve them—the finest prize for merit that a constitution can offer.

The people also have authority over the approval of laws and, most important of all, they deliberate on questions of peace and war.

And in matters of alliance, the cessation of hostilities, and treaties, it is the people who confirm each of these and make them binding—or do the opposite.

So that here again one might reasonably say that the people hold the greatest share of power and that the constitution is a democracy.

Chapter 15 Division of Political Power At Rome

We have now described how the powers of the state are divided among each of its elements. We will now explain how each of these parts can, when it chooses, work against the others or cooperate with them.

The consul, once he has obtained the authority described above and set out with his army, appears to be supreme in carrying through the tasks before him, yet he still needs the people and the Senate, and without them he is incapable of bringing his operations to completion.

For it is clear that supplies must be sent continually to the legions; but without the Senate's consent neither grain, nor clothing, nor pay can be provided to them, so that a commander's designs come to nothing whenever the Senate chooses to be obstructive and to thwart his work.

Moreover, whether the plans and intentions of the generals are carried out or not rests with the Senate: for it has the authority, when the year has elapsed, either to send out another general to succeed the present one or to keep the current commander in place.

The Senate also has the power to magnify and play up the successes of the commanders, and, conversely, to dim and diminish them.

For the celebrations they call "triumphs"—through which the generals bring the achievements they have accomplished vividly before the eyes of the citizens—the generals cannot conduct with proper splendor, and sometimes cannot hold at all, unless the Senate gives its approval and grants the funds for them.

As for the people, the commanders are absolutely bound to keep them in view, even if they happen to be far from home; for it is the people, as I said above, who make agreements and treaties valid or void.

But most important of all, when commanders lay down their office they must render before the people an accounting of what they have done.

And so it is in no way safe for the generals to disregard the goodwill of either the Senate or the people.

Chapter 16 The Senate Controlled by the People

The Senate, again, for all the great power it possesses, is in the first place obliged in public affairs to defer to the multitude and to keep the people in view.

And it cannot carry out the most far-reaching and serious inquiries into, and corrections of, crimes against the state—those for which the penalty is death—unless the people also ratify what has been

resolved.

The same holds for matters that touch the Senate itself: if anyone introduces a law that strips away some part of the authority the Senate holds by custom, or abolishes its privileges of precedence and its honors, or indeed makes inroads on the senators' personal property, in all such cases it is the people who have the power to enact it or not.

And the decisive point: if a single one of the tribunes interposes his veto, the Senate not only cannot bring any of its deliberations to a conclusion, but cannot even convene or assemble at all— and the tribunes are always bound to do what the people decide and above all to keep the people's wishes in view. For all these reasons, then, the Senate fears the multitude and pays heed to the people.

Chapter 17 Powers of the Senate

In the same way, the people in their turn are dependent on the Senate and must take its wishes into account, both as a community and as individuals.

For a great many contracts—too many to enumerate easily—are let out by the censors throughout the whole of Italy for the upkeep and construction of public works; and besides these there is the collection of revenue from numerous rivers, harbors, gardens, mines, and tracts of land—in short, from everything that has come under Roman control.

All these matters are handled by the general public, so that, broadly speaking, virtually everyone is bound up in these purchases and in the business that arises from them.

For some buy the contracts directly from the censors; others go into partnership with them; others stand surety for the buyers; and still others pledge their own property to the treasury on their behalf.

Over all of these affairs the Senate holds final authority: it can grant an extension of time, and in the event of an accident it can lighten the burden, and if some genuine impossibility arises it can release a man from his contract entirely.

And there are many ways in which the Senate can do great harm, or again great good, to those who manage public business, since the referral of all such matters comes before it.

But most important of all is that the judges in most trials—both public and private—involving charges of any magnitude are drawn from its members.

For this reason all citizens, being bound to its goodwill and fearful of the uncertainty of when they may need its help, are wary of obstructing or actively opposing the Senate's wishes.

In the same way they are reluctant to work against the undertakings of the consuls, because, individually and collectively, all of them fall under the consuls' authority when on campaign in the field.

Chapter 18 Interdependency Brings Strength

Since each of the parts has this power both to injure and to assist the others, their combination is suited to meet every circumstance, so that it is impossible to find a better constitutional structure than this.

For whenever some common danger from outside presses upon them and forces them to think and act together, the power of the state becomes so great and so remarkable that nothing whatever that is needful is left undone—since everyone, all at once, competes in devising plans for whatever has arisen—and no decision once made falls behind the right moment, as each man works, both publicly and privately, toward completing the task at hand.

As a result, the distinctive character of this constitution makes it irresistible and able to achieve anything it has resolved upon.

And again, whenever they are freed from external fears and settle into the prosperity and abundance that come from their successes, enjoying their good fortune and growing corrupted by flattery and idleness, and turn toward violence and arrogance—as commonly happens— it is then above all that the constitution can be seen supplying the remedy out of its own resources.

For whenever one of the parts begins to swell, becomes contentious, and tends to gain more power than it should, it is clear that—since, as just explained, none of them is self-sufficient, and the purpose of each can be counteracted and hindered by the others—none of the parts swells up or grows overbearing.

For all of them remain within their proper bounds: some are checked in their impulse, while others are restrained from the outset by fear of interference from those beside them.

The dictator differs from the consuls in this respect: whereas each of the two consuls is attended by twelve axes, the dictator has twenty-four; and whereas the consuls in many things need the Senate's cooperation to carry out their plans, the dictator is a commander with absolute power, and the moment he is appointed, all the magistracies in Rome are immediately dissolved, except for the tribunes of the people. But we shall give a more precise account of these matters elsewhere.

Chapter 19 On the Roman Army

After they have elected the consuls, they next appoint military tribunes—fourteen from those who have already completed five years of service, and another ten in addition from those who have completed ten.

As for the rest, a man must by law complete ten campaigns in the cavalry, or sixteen in the infantry, before reaching the age of forty-six—except for those whose property is assessed below four hundred drachmas.

All of these latter are assigned to naval service. But if the pressure of circumstances ever demands it, the infantry are obliged to serve twenty annual campaigns.

No one is permitted to hold any civil office until he has completed ten annual campaigns.

When the holders of the consular office are about to carry out the enrollment of soldiers, they announce in advance before the people the day on which all Romans of military age must present themselves. They do this every year.

When the day has come and the men eligible for service have arrived in Rome, and then assembled on the Capitol, the junior military tribunes divide themselves up— in whatever order they have been appointed by the people or by the commanders—into four groups, because the basic, primary division of their forces is made into four legions.

They assigned the first four appointed to the legion called the first, the next three to the second, the four following these to the third, and the last three to the fourth.

Of the senior tribunes, they place the first two in the first legion, the next three in the second, the two following them in the third, and the last three in the fourth.

Chapter 20 Allocation of Men to the Legions

Once the division and assignment of the tribunes has been made in such a way that all the legions have an equal number of officers, they then take their seats apart from one another, legion by legion, and draw lots for the tribes one at a time, summoning each tribe as its lot comes up.

From this tribe they pick out four of the young men who are reasonably well matched in age and physical condition.

When these have been brought forward, the officers of the first legion take the first pick, those of the second legion second, those of the third third, and those of the fourth last.

When another four are brought forward, the officers of the second legion take the first choice, and so on in order, with those of the first legion choosing last.

After this, when yet another four are brought forward, the officers of the third legion choose first, and those of the second last.

With the selection proceeding by rotation in this regular way throughout, it turns out that the men taken into each of the legions are closely comparable.

When they have selected the prescribed number—which is sometimes four thousand two hundred infantry for each legion, and at other times five thousand, whenever some greater danger looms before them— after this they pass the cavalry. In the old days they used to review the cavalry afterward, following the four thousand two hundred infantry, but now they do it beforehand, since the selection

of the cavalry is now made by the censor on the basis of wealth; and they enroll three hundred for each legion.

Chapter 21 Fourfold Division of the Legionaries

Once the enrollment has been completed in the manner described above, the tribunes responsible in each legion assemble the men who have been selected, and from the whole body they pick out the single most suitable man.

They then make him swear that he will obey his commanders and carry out their orders to the best of his ability.

All the rest then come forward one by one and take the oath, simply declaring that they will do everything just as the first man did.

At the same time, the holders of the consular office send instructions to the magistrates of the allied cities of Italy from which they wish allied troops to serve alongside them, specifying the number required, the day, and the place at which the selected men must present themselves.

The cities then carry out a selection and administer an oath very much like the one described, appoint a commander and a paymaster, and send the men out.

Meanwhile the tribunes at Rome, after administering the oath, assign each legion a day and a place at which the men must present themselves without their arms, and for the time being they dismiss them.

When the men arrive on the appointed day, the tribunes sort them out: the youngest and poorest they assign to the skirmishers (velites), those next in age to the so-called hastati, those in the prime of life to the principes, and the oldest to the triarii.

For these are the divisions among the Romans, and this is their number, distinguished by name, by age, and also by their equipment, in each legion.

They divide them in such a way that the oldest, called triarii, number six hundred, the principes twelve hundred, the hastati an equal number to these, and the remainder, the youngest, form the skirmishers.

If the legion numbers more than four thousand, they make the division proportionally, except for the triarii, whose number always stays the same.

Chapter 22 Arms of the Youngest Roman Soldiers

The youngest soldiers are ordered to carry a sword, javelins, and a round shield (parma).

The parma is sturdily constructed and large enough to give protection: being circular in shape, it has a diameter of three feet.

The soldier is also equipped with a plain helmet, and at times he puts a wolf's skin or something of the kind over it, both for protection and as a mark of recognition, so that the officers of each unit can see whether he is fighting bravely in the front of danger or not.

The shaft of the javelin is about two cubits in length and roughly a finger thick, while its head is a span long and beaten out so fine and sharpened to such a degree that it inevitably bends on the first impact, so that the enemy cannot throw it back; otherwise the weapon would be of use to both sides alike.

Chapter 23 Arms of the Other Soldiers

To the second group by age, those called the hastati, they gave orders to carry the full panoply.

The Roman panoply consists, first, of a long shield (scutum)—its curved surface two and a half feet wide, four feet long, and the thickness at the rim a palm's breadth.

It is made of two layers of board fastened together with bull's-hide glue, then covered on the outer surface first with canvas and after that with calf's skin.

Around the rim, both on the upper and the lower parts, it has an iron edging, by which it is protected against the downward strokes of swords and against wear from being rested on the ground.

An iron boss is also fitted to it, which wards off the heavier blows of stones, pikes, and violent missiles generally.

Along with the shield they carry a sword, which is worn on the right thigh and is called the Spanish sword (gladius hispaniensis).

It has an excellent point and can deliver a powerful cut with either edge, because its blade is strong and rigid.

In addition to these they carry two heavy javelins (pila), a bronze helmet, and a greave. Of the pila, some are thick and some thin.

Of the heavier ones, the round-shafted have a diameter of a palm's breadth, and the square-shafted measure a palm on each side. The thin ones resemble moderate-sized hunting spears, and they are carried together with the ones already mentioned.

The wooden shaft of all of them is about three cubits long, and to each is fitted a barbed iron head equal in length to the wood.

They make the attachment and fitting of the head so secure that they sink it into the wood as far as the middle and fasten it down with a row of clasps, so that in use the iron breaks sooner than the binding works loose, even though at the base, where it joins the wood, its thickness is three half-fingers; so great is the care they take over the fastening.

On top of all this they adorn themselves with a circlet of feathers and three upright purple or black plumes, about a cubit high; with these set on the crown of the head along with the rest of the arms, the man appears twice his own height, and his look is handsome and terrifying to the enemy.

Most of the soldiers, after adding a bronze plate a span square—which they place in front of the chest and call a heart-guard (pectorale)—have their full equipment complete.

But those rated above ten thousand drachmas wear, instead of the heart-guard and along with the rest, a coat of chain mail (lorica).

The principes and triarii are armed in the same manner, except that instead of the heavy javelins the triarii carry thrusting spears (hastae).

Chapter 24 Officers of Infantry and Cavalry

From each of the groups mentioned above, except the youngest, they elect ten company commanders (centurions) by merit. After these they make a second selection of ten more.

All of these they have titled company commanders, and the first one chosen is also a member of the council of war. These officers in turn select an equal number of rear-rank men (optiones).

Next, together with the company commanders, they divide each age-group into ten parts, except for the skirmishers, and they assign to each part of the selected men two leaders and two rear-rank officers.

The skirmishers they distribute in equal proportion across all the parts according to their total number.

Each part they called a unit (ordo), a company (manipulus), and a vexillum, and the leaders they called centurions and ordinum ductores.

These officers in turn select for each company, from the men left over, two of the most vigorous and noble men to serve as standard-bearers.

They reasonably appoint two leaders for each unit: since it is uncertain both what a leader may do and what may happen to him, and since the demands of war allow no excuse for delay, they never want a company to be left without a leader and commander.

When both are present, the first one chosen commands the right part of the company, and the second leads the men on the left of the unit; when one is absent, the one who remains commands them all.

They want their company commanders to be not so much bold and fond of danger as men fit to command—steady, and rather of a deep spirit—men who will not rush into attack or open the battle on their own initiative, but who, when overpowered and hard pressed, will hold their ground and die in defense of their post.

Chapter 25 Officers and Armour of the Cavalry

In much the same way they divide the cavalry into ten squadrons, and from each they choose three squadron-commanders; these three then each appoint a rear-rank officer of their own.

The first commander chosen leads the squadron, while the other two hold the rank of decade-leaders, though all alike are called decurions. If the first commander is not present, the second again takes over command of the squadron.

The equipment of the cavalry is now very similar to that of the Greeks, but in early times it was not so. First, they wore no breastplates, but went into action in loincloths only. The result was that they were ready and efficient at dismounting and quickly springing back up onto their horses, but at close fighting they were in a precarious position, since they faced danger unprotected.

Their spears, too, were useless to them in two respects. First, because they made them thin and pliant, they could neither take aim at a chosen target, nor, before they could plant the spearhead into anything, keep the spears from being shaken by the very motion of the horses, so that most of them snapped.

Besides this, since they made the spears without butt-spikes, they had the use of only the first stroke delivered with the spearhead; after that, once the shafts had broken, the weapons were of no further use and worthless to them. As for the shield, they carried one made of ox-hide, resembling the round, knobbed sacrificial cakes that are set out for offerings. These shields were of no use for charging, since they had no firmness, and once the rains had stripped off their leather and rotted them, they were awkward to handle even before, and now became completely so. Therefore, since this equipment proved unsatisfactory, they quickly adopted the Greek pattern of arms.

With these weapons, the first stroke of the spearhead is at once both well-aimed and effective, since by its construction the spear is steady and stable; and likewise the reversed use of the butt-spike is firm and forceful.

The same holds for the shields: both for warding off blows and for thrusting, they have a use that is solid and dependable.

Once the Romans recognized these advantages, they quickly imitated them; for the Romans, if any people ever were, are good at taking over the customs of others and emulating what is better.

Chapter 26 The Roman Camp

Having made this division of the men, and having given these orders concerning their arms, the military tribunes then dismissed the men to their homes. When the day arrived on which they had all sworn to assemble likewise at the place appointed by the consuls—for each consul as a rule assigns a separate place for his own legions, since to each is given a portion of the allies and two of the Roman

legions—all those enrolled present themselves without fail, since no other excuse is allowed to those who have taken the oath, except an adverse omen from the birds or sheer impossibility.

When the allies too have assembled together with the Romans, the organization and management of them is carried out by the officers appointed by the consuls, who are called praefects and are twelve in number.

These officers first select for the consuls, out of all the allies who have come, those cavalry and infantry best suited for genuine service; they are called the *extraordinarii*, which, translated, means "the picked men."

The total number of the allies is, in infantry, generally about equal to the Roman legions, and in cavalry three times as many.

From these they take for the picked corps roughly a third of the cavalry and a fifth of the infantry. The rest they divide into two parts, and call the one the right wing and the other the left wing.

When these arrangements had been made, the military tribunes took over both the Romans and the allies and made camp. They have a single, simple principle governing their camps, which they apply at every occasion and in every place.

For this reason it seems to me fitting on the present occasion to try, as far as words can do so, to bring my hearers to an understanding of how the Romans handle their forces on the march, in the camp, and in the line of battle.

For who is so indifferent to fine and serious achievements that he would not be willing to take a little extra care over such matters, about which, once he has heard them, he will be knowledgeable in one of the things genuinely worth describing and knowing?

Chapter 27 How the Camp is Constructed

The manner of their encampment is as follows. Of whatever site has been chosen for the camp, the general's tent takes the spot best suited at once for a commanding view and for issuing orders. Once the standard has been set up where they intend to pitch it, a square area is measured off around the standard, such that all its sides lie a hundred feet from the standard, and the enclosed area amounts to four plethra.

Along one face and side of this figure—whichever appears most convenient for watering and foraging—the Roman legions are laid out in the following way.

Since there are six military tribunes in each legion, as stated just now, and since there are always two Roman legions with each of the consuls, it is clear that twelve tribunes must serve with each consul.

They place the tents of these tribunes all on one straight line, which is parallel to the chosen side of the square and stands fifty feet away from it, so that there may be room for the horses, along with the pack

animals and the rest of the tribunes' baggage.

The tents are pitched turned the opposite way, facing toward the outer side—which is henceforth to be understood and called by us, once and for all, the front of the whole layout.

The tribunes' tents stand at equal distances from one another, spread over enough ground that they extend along the entire width of the Roman legions.

Chapter 28 Division by Roads and Squares

When a further hundred feet have been measured off toward the front, along the whole line of tents, then, starting from the straight line that bounds this width—which runs parallel to the tribunes' tents—they begin from this line to lay out the quarters of the legions, proceeding in the following manner.

Bisecting the aforementioned line, they quarter the cavalry of each legion at this point at right angles to the line, facing one another, fifty feet apart, making the dividing line the middle of the interval.

The arrangement of the tents for the cavalry and for the infantry is much the same, for the whole figure, both of the maniple and of the troops, comes out square.

This square faces onto the passageways, and has a fixed length along the passageway—namely a hundred feet—and for the most part they try to make the depth equal too, except in the case of the allies.

But when they employ larger legions, they add proportionally to both the length and the depth.

Chapter 29 Placement of Triarii, Principes, and Hastati

The cavalry encampment lies opposite the middle of the tribunes' tents, set crosswise—like a transverse street—to the line just described and to the area in front of the tribunes.

In fact, the layout of all the passages comes out very much like a system of streets, since on either side the units are quartered lengthwise—companies on one side, squadrons on the other.

Behind the cavalry just mentioned, they place the triarii of both legions, one company opposite each squadron, in a corresponding arrangement: the two blocks touch each other, but face in opposite directions, away from the cavalry.

They make the depth of each company only half its length, because the triarii are generally only half as numerous as the other divisions.

For this reason, although the numbers of men are often unequal, all the divisions still come out equal in length, thanks to the difference in depth.

Next, leaving a space of fifty feet on each side of these, they station the principes facing the triarii.

Since the principes also face toward the spaces just mentioned, two more streets are formed here as well. These begin from the same line and have their entrances, like those of the cavalry, from the hundred-foot space in front of the tribunes, and they run down to the side of the rampart opposite the tribunes—the side we agreed from the outset to treat as the front of the whole layout.

Behind the principes, again facing the opposite way and with their blocks touching, they station the hastati.

Since all these divisions have ten companies each, according to the original division, all the streets turn out equal in length, and their ends along the front side of the rampart line up evenly. Toward that side they also turn the last companies as they pitch their camp.

Chapter 30 Placement of the Allies

Again leaving a space of fifty feet beyond the hastati, they station the allied cavalry facing them, beginning from the same line and ending at the same one.

The number of the allies, as I said above, is in infantry roughly equal to that of the Roman legions—less by the picked troops set apart—while in cavalry it is double, after a third of these too has been drawn off for the picked troops.

Therefore, increasing the depth of the allied cavalry's quarters proportionally in the camp layout, they try to make them equal in length to the Roman legions.

Once all five passages have been completed, they next set out the companies of the allied infantry facing the opposite way—just as with the cavalry—increasing their depth proportionally, and facing toward the rampart and toward each of the two side faces.

In each company, the officers take the first tents at either end. While arranging them in the manner described, they also set the sixth squadron in each division fifty feet apart from the fifth, and likewise the infantry companies, so that here too another passage is formed across the middle of the camp, crosswise to the streets and parallel to the tribunes' tents. They call this the fifth passage, because it runs alongside the fifth units.

Chapter 31 The Camp Market-Place

The space that lies behind, beneath the tribunes' tents, and that borders the headquarters enclosure on either side, serves on one side as the market-place, and on the other for the quartermaster's office and the supplies that go with it.

Starting from the last of the tribunes' tents on each side and running back—arranged in a kind of L-shape relative to those tents—the choicest of the picked cavalry, together with some of those serving as

volunteers out of personal regard for the consuls, all encamp along the side faces of the rampart, some facing the quartermaster's stores, the others, on the opposite side, facing the market-place.

As a rule, it falls to these men not only to camp close to the consuls, but also, on the march and in other duties, to attend upon and constantly remain about the consul and the quartermaster.

Facing them, looking toward the rampart, are the infantry who perform a service like that of the cavalry just described.

Next to these a passage is left, a hundred feet wide, parallel to the tribunes' tents, extending along the far side of the market-place, headquarters, and quartermaster's office, past all the parts of the rampart already mentioned.

Along the upper side of this passage the picked cavalry of the allies encamp, facing the market-place, the headquarters, and the quartermaster's office at once.

Down the middle of these cavalry quarters, in line with the headquarters enclosure itself, a passage fifty feet wide is left, leading to the rear side of the camp and lying at right angles to the broad avenue just mentioned.

Facing these cavalry, again, are placed the picked infantry of the allies, looking toward the rampart and the rear face of the whole camp.

The space left empty on either side of these, along the side faces, is given over to foreign troops and to such allies as join at the moment.

With everything arranged in this way, the overall shape of the camp comes out as a square with equal sides, while in its detailed layout—both the street plan and the rest of the organization—it has an arrangement much like a city.

They keep the rampart two hundred feet away from the tents along every face. This empty space affords them many valuable advantages.

It is well and conveniently suited for the marching in and out of the units: each body makes its exit into this space along its own street, so that they do not all converge onto one road, overturning and trampling one another.

They also bring into it the livestock driven in and the plunder taken from the enemy, and keep them safely through the nights.

Most important of all, in night attacks neither fire nor missile reaches them, except for a very few; and even these do almost no harm, because of the great distance and the screen of the tents.

Chapter 32 Arrangements When There Are More Men

Once the number of both infantry and cavalry is fixed for each plan—whether they make each legion four thousand or five thousand strong—and likewise the depth, length, and number of the companies are fixed, along with the dimensions of the passages and avenues, and everything else as well, it becomes possible for anyone willing to attend closely to work out both the size of the site and the entire perimeter of the camp. But if at any time the number of allies grows larger, whether of those who set out with the army from the start or of those who join at the moment, for those who join at the moment they fill, besides the places already described, the spaces beside the headquarters as well, contracting the market-place and quartermaster's office into whatever space the need urgently demands.

For those who march out with the army from the start, if their number is fairly large, they add one extra street on each side of the Roman legions, alongside the side faces, in addition to those already there.

When all four legions and both consuls are gathered into a single camp, one need only imagine two armies, encamped according to the scheme just described, joined together facing opposite ways and meeting at the quarters of each legion's picked troops—the men we placed facing the rear face of the whole camp.

In that case the shape becomes oblong, the site twice as large, and the perimeter half as much again.

So whenever both consuls happen to encamp together, they always lay out the camp in this way; but when they camp separately, everything else is the same, except that they place the market-place, quartermaster's office, and headquarters between the two legions.

Chapter 33 Guard Duty and Other Assignments

Once the camp has been laid out, the tribunes gather everyone in it, free and slave alike, and administer an oath to each man individually.

Each swears that he will steal nothing from the camp, and that if he finds anything he will bring it to the tribunes.

From the maniples of principes and hastati in each legion they next assign two maniples to the open square in front of the tribunes' tents.

Since the Romans spend most of the daytime in that area, they are careful to have it constantly watered and kept clean.

Of the remaining eighteen maniples, each tribune receives three by lot, since each legion under this arrangement has three such maniples assigned to each of the six tribunes.

Each of those three maniples in turn performs the following services for its tribune: when the army encamps they pitch his tent and level the ground around it; if any part of his baggage has to be fenced

off for protection, they do that as well.

They also provide him with two pickets, each of four men, some stationed in front of the tent and others behind it by the horses.

Since each tribune has three maniples, and each maniple contains more than a hundred men—not counting the triarii and velites, who are exempt from this duty— and since the duty falls to each maniple only every third day, the burden is light, while the arrangement gives the tribunes both the service they need and an impressive dignity.

The maniples of triarii are excused from attendance on the tribunes, but each maniple supplies a daily guard to the cavalry squadron quartered just behind it.

These men keep watch in general, but especially over the horses, so that they do not get entangled in their tethers, injure themselves, or break loose and plunge into the rest, throwing the camp into confusion.

Finally, one maniple out of the whole force takes turns each day in mounting guard around the consul, both to protect him from plots and to add splendor to his rank.

Chapter 34 Daily Orders and Watchwords

For digging the ditch and building the rampart, two sides of the camp are assigned to the allies, the sides by which their two wings are quartered, and two to the Romans, one for each legion.

Each side is divided maniple by maniple, and the centurions supervise the work section by section, while two tribunes oversee the entire side.

These same tribunes also direct the rest of the camp's business. They divide themselves into pairs, and each pair takes charge in turn for two months out of the six.

Whichever pair is on duty at the time supervises the operations in the field. The prefects of the allies divide their responsibilities in the same way.

At dawn the cavalry officers and centurions report to the tribunes, and the tribunes in turn go to the consul.

He gives them whatever instructions are needed, the tribunes pass these on to the officers, and the officers then convey them to the troops whenever the occasion requires.

The night watchword is distributed in the following manner.

From each class of troops, cavalry and infantry alike, one man is chosen from the tenth and last maniple, the unit quartered at the end of the street.

This man is excused from guard duty and presents himself each evening at sunset at the tribune's tent, where he receives the watchword written on a tablet; then he withdraws.

Returning to his own maniple, he hands over both tablet and watchword before witnesses to the commander of the next maniple, and that man does the same to the commander beyond him. So it passes from hand to hand until it reaches the first maniples, those nearest the tribunes, and these must return the tablet to the tribunes before dark.

If all the issued tablets are returned, the tribune knows that the watchword has passed through the whole line.

If one is missing, he can tell from the inscription where the failure occurred and immediately investigates, so that the man responsible receives the punishment he deserves.

Chapter 35 Night Watches

Their system for the night watches is as follows. The consul and his tent are guarded by the maniple assigned to that duty.

The tribunes' quarters and the cavalry squadrons are guarded by the men detailed from each maniple in the manner already described.

Each separate unit also posts its own guard from among its own men, while the remaining watches are assigned by the consul.

Usually there are three sentries at the quaestor's tent, and two at the tent of each legate and each member of the council.

The outer perimeter is guarded by the velites, who keep watch along the whole rampart by day, and who also place sentries at the gates, ten at each entrance.

As for the men appointed to the actual watches, the rear-rank officer of each company brings the one assigned to the first watch to the tribune in the evening, one man from each picket.

The tribune gives each of them a small wooden token marked for that watch, and with these they go off to their assigned posts.

The duty of making the rounds belongs to the cavalry. The first squadron commander in each legion must early in the morning order one of his rear-rank men to notify four young troopers of that squadron that they are to patrol.

In the evening that same man informs the commander of the next squadron that the duty passes to him on the following day.

That commander makes the same arrangements for the day after, and so the responsibility continues in rotation.

The four men selected from the first squadron draw lots for the different watches, then go to the tribune and receive written notice of how many watches they must inspect and which they are.

After this, the four take up their position beside the first maniple of the triarii, for the centurion of that maniple is responsible for sounding the bugle for each watch.

Chapter 36 The Night Rounds of the Watch

When the time comes, the man on whom the first watch has fallen by lot goes the rounds for that watch, taking some companions with him as witnesses.

He inspects the appointed guards—not only those on the rampart and at the gates, but also those stationed with the individual maniples and cavalry squadrons.

If he finds the men of the watch awake, he takes back their token; if he finds anyone asleep or absent from his post, he calls his companions to witness it and then moves on.

Those assigned to the later watches do the same.

The sounding of the bugle for each watch, so that the patrols and the sentries keep the same reckoning, belongs to the centurions of the first maniple of the triarii, one in each of the two camps, in daily rotation.

At daybreak each patrol brings the collected tokens back to the tribune. If all are returned, the guards are dismissed without accusation.

But if any patrol brings back fewer than the proper number, the missing picket is identified from the mark on the token.

Once the responsible watch is identified, the tribune summons the centurion, who brings forward the men assigned to that guard, and they are confronted with the patrolman.

If the fault clearly lies with the guards, the patrolman is immediately acquitted, since he is required to produce witnesses and did so. But if he failed to do that, the blame falls upon the patrolman himself.

Chapter 37 The Tribunes' Court

When an accusation is brought, the tribunes at once convene a court, and if the accused is convicted he is punished by cudgeling.

The punishment works like this: the tribune takes a cudgel and merely touches the condemned man with it.

At that signal all the men in the camp attack him with clubs and stones, and most of those condemned are killed on the spot inside the camp itself.

Even those who manage to escape are not really saved. How could they be? They cannot return to their own country, and no relative would dare receive such a man into his house. So anyone who falls into this misfortune is completely ruined.

The same penalty applies to the rear-rank officer and to the commander of the cavalry squadron if they fail to give the proper order at the proper time, the former to the patrols and the latter to the commander of the next squadron.

Because this punishment is so severe and unavoidable, the Roman night watches are kept with unfailing strictness.

The soldiers are answerable to the tribunes, and the tribunes to the consuls.

A tribune has authority to fine a man, seize his property as security, or have him flogged; among the allies the prefects have the same powers.

This cudgeling punishment is also inflicted on anyone who steals from the camp, bears false witness, is found guilty in his prime of shameful sexual misconduct, or has been punished three times for the same offense.

These are treated as crimes. But the following are classed as cowardice and military disgrace: falsely reporting brave deeds to the tribunes in order to win honors; or, if men have been posted in reserve, abandoning the assigned position out of fear; likewise, if in the moment of danger a man throws away any of his weapons through fear.

That is why some men openly choose death at their post, unwilling to leave their station because they dread the punishment awaiting them.

Others, if they have dropped shield, sword, or some other piece of armor in battle, throw themselves recklessly at the enemy, hoping either to recover what they lost or to escape by death the certain shame and the insults of their family.

Chapter 38 Military Punishments and Rewards

If the same offense is committed by a larger body of men—for instance, if whole standards give way and abandon their ground under pressure—then they do not think it right to cudgel or execute them all.

Instead they have found a remedy that is both effective and terrifying. The tribune assembles the legion, brings the offenders into the middle, denounces them bitterly, and then selects by lot five, or eight, or sometimes twenty, always aiming at roughly a tenth of the men who were guilty of cowardice.

Those on whom the lot falls are put to death by cudgeling without mercy; the rest are given barley instead of wheat and are ordered to camp outside the rampart and outside the protection of the camp.

Since all face the same danger from the lottery, and since all alike are made an example of by the disgrace of barley rations, this is the strongest possible way both to inspire terror and to correct the failure that has occurred.

Chapter 39 Military Decorations

The Romans are also excellent at stirring young men to face danger bravely.

Whenever a battle has taken place and some men have distinguished themselves, the consul summons an assembly of the army, brings forward those whom he thinks have done anything notable, and first praises each man for his courage, mentioning any other honorable achievements of his life as well.

After that he grants rewards: to the man who has wounded an enemy, a spear; to the man who has struck him down and stripped him, a cup if he is an infantryman, horse-trappings if he is a cavalryman. In earlier times the spear alone was given.

These rewards are not given for deeds done in a pitched battle or in the capture of a city, but rather in skirmishes and similar situations where there was no strict necessity for a man to expose himself, and he took the risk deliberately and on his own initiative.

To those who are first over the wall in the storming of a city he gives a golden crown.

In the same way, the consul marks with gifts those who have shielded and saved any citizen or ally, and the tribunes require the men who were saved to crown their rescuer, whether willingly or, if necessary, by formal decision.

The man whose life was saved honors his rescuer for the rest of his life as if he were a father, and owes him every duty that a son owes a parent.

Such encouragement stirs not only those who witness it and stand present in the ranks, but also those who remain at home, to rivalry and zeal in the face of danger.

For those who win such rewards enjoy not only glory in the camp and immediate fame at home, but after returning to their own city they also take part in processions with special distinction, since only men honored by their generals for valor may wear these decorations.

They also display the spoils in the most prominent places in their houses, as signs and proofs of their own courage.

With such care given in the camp to rewards and punishments alike, it is no wonder that Roman warfare ends in brilliant and successful results.

An infantryman receives two obols a day in pay, a centurion double that, and a cavalryman a drachma.

The infantry ration is about two-thirds of an Attic medimnus of wheat per month. The cavalry receive seven medimni of barley and two of wheat.

Among the allies, the infantry receive the same amount, while the cavalry receive one and a third medimni of wheat and five of barley.

For the allies this ration is a free grant, but from the Romans the quaestor deducts at a fixed rate the cost of grain, clothing, and any additional weapons they may need, taking it out of their pay.

Chapter 40 The Army On the March

Their method of striking camp and marching is as follows.

At the first trumpet call everyone takes down the tents and packs the baggage; but no one may either strike or raise a tent before the tents of the tribunes and the consul have been dealt with.

At the second signal they load the baggage animals; at the third the first troops must advance and set the whole camp in motion.

In the vanguard they usually place the picked troops; next comes the right wing of the allies, and behind them their baggage animals.

After these follows the first Roman legion, with its own baggage behind it.

Then comes the second legion, followed by its own baggage and by the baggage of the allied wing assigned to the rear, for the left wing of the allies takes the last position in the march.

The cavalry sometimes ride behind their own divisions, and sometimes move alongside the baggage animals, keeping them together and providing them security.

If an attack is expected from the rear, the rest of the order remains much the same, except that the picked allied troops take over the rear instead of the vanguard.

On alternate days the legions and allied wings exchange the leading place, so that all alike share the advantage of reaching water and forage first.

In especially dangerous circumstances they use another order of march, when they are moving over open ground.

They then advance in three parallel columns of hastati, principes, and triarii, placing the baggage of the leading standards in front of all, the baggage of the second line behind the first, and the baggage of the third behind the second, so that baggage and fighting units alternate in succession.

With the column arranged in this way, if danger appears they wheel either to shield-side or spear-side, bring the standards clear of the baggage, and face the enemy.

Thus in a short time and by a single movement the heavy infantry take up a battle line, except when the hastati also need to wheel farther into position.

The baggage train and all those accompanying it then remain drawn up behind the line, in the proper place for safety in the coming danger.

Chapter 41 Making Camp

Whenever, on the march, they are nearing the place where they will camp, a tribune and those centurions previously selected for the task ride ahead.

After surveying the whole site, they first determine where the consul's tent must stand, in accordance with the system already described, and on which side of the praetorium the legions are to be quartered.

Once these points are settled, they measure out the enclosure of the praetorium, then the straight line on which the tribunes' tents are to stand, and next the parallel line from which the legions' quarters begin.

In the same way they mark out the lines on the other sides of the consul's tent, following the arrangement that I explained in detail earlier.

This is done quickly, because the measurements are easy and all the intervals are fixed beforehand and familiar.

Then they set up standards: first one where the consul's tent is to stand, second one on the chosen side of the enclosure, a third in the middle of the line where the tribunes camp, and a fourth beside the line from which the legions' quarters begin. These are scarlet standards, except for the consul's, which is white. On the other sides they sometimes plant plain spears and sometimes standards of other colors.

After this they measure out the streets and set up spears along each street.

So when the troops approach and the site of the camp comes clearly into view, everyone can immediately recognize the entire layout by taking the consul's standard as the point of reference.

Since each man already knows exactly on which street and in what place on that street he is to pitch his tent, because every unit always occupies the same position in camp, the whole thing resembles an army entering its own city.

There too, once people have passed the gates and turned off, each goes straight to his own lodging without hesitation, because he knows generally and in detail where his quarters lie within the city.

Exactly the same thing happens in Roman camps.

Chapter 42 Roman Camps Designed for Facility and Familiarity

In this matter the Romans seem to me to follow a course directly opposite to that of the Greeks, because their main aim in encampment is ease and regularity.

The Greeks think the chief consideration in choosing a camp is to take advantage of the natural strength of the site, partly because they wish to avoid the labor of digging ditches, and partly because they believe artificial defenses are not equal to the protections supplied by nature.

As a result, they are forced to alter the whole shape of the camp to fit the ground, and also to rearrange its parts in irregular and shifting ways.

That means neither the individual soldier nor the individual unit has any fixed and familiar place in camp.

The Romans, by contrast, choose to endure the labor of digging and the other hardships that go with fortification for the sake of convenience and familiarity, so that they may always have one and the same camp arrangement.

These, then, are the principal features of the Roman system of camps, and especially of the way they lay them out.

Chapter 43 The Roman Republic Compared with Others

Nearly all historians have handed down to us a reputation for excellence in the constitutions of Sparta, Crete, Mantinea, and Carthage; some have also mentioned those of Athens and Thebes.

I will set the latter aside, since I am convinced that the constitutions of Athens and Thebes do not deserve much discussion: they neither grew in an orderly way, nor remained long at their height, nor passed through their changes with moderation.

Rather, like some sudden stroke of fortune, they flashed into brilliance for a moment and then, just when they still seemed to be flourishing and likely to prosper, they encountered the opposite turn.

The Thebans won their reputation among the Greeks by taking advantage of Spartan blindness and the hatred of Sparta's allies, through the excellence of one man, or at most two, who understood the situation.

That it was not the structure of the Theban constitution but the quality of its leaders that caused those successes was soon made evident by events themselves.

For the rise, the high point, and the fall of Theban power all plainly coincided with the lives of Epaminondas and Pelopidas.

So we must conclude that it was not the constitution but those men that caused the good fortune Thebes enjoyed at that time.

Chapter 44 The Athenian Constitution

A similar judgment must be made about the Athenian constitution.

It may have enjoyed more frequent intervals of excellence, but its most brilliant flowering came with the ability of Themistocles, and it quickly experienced the opposite turn because of its unstable nature.

For the Athenian people are always like a ship without a master.

When fear at sea or the pressure of a storm makes the passengers unite and heed the helmsman, they perform admirably.

But once confidence returns and they begin to despise their officers and quarrel among themselves because they no longer all want the same thing, with some insisting on sailing on, others pressing the helmsman to put in to harbor, some letting out the sheets while others pull them in and shout to furl the sails, then the spectacle is disgraceful to outside observers because of their conflict and disorder, and dangerous to all who share in the voyage.

So it often happens that after escaping the open sea and the fiercest storms, they wreck themselves in harbor and close to land.

The same thing has repeatedly happened to the Athenian constitution. More than once it has survived the gravest and most frightening dangers through the courage of the people and their leaders, only to stumble recklessly in times of security and ease.

So there is no need to say more about either Athens or Thebes, since in both states the whole system is managed by a mob acting on its own impulse—the one distinguished by sharpness and volatility, the other trained in violence and fury.

Chapter 45 The Cretan Constitution Compared to the Spartan

Turning now to the Cretan constitution, two questions deserve attention: first, how the most learned ancient writers—Ephorus, Xenophon, Callisthenes, and Plato—could say that it was the same as the Spartan constitution; and second, how they could also praise it.

In my judgment neither claim is true.

This can be seen from the following points, and I will first explain how unlike the Spartan system it is. The first distinctive feature of the Spartan constitution, they say, concerns landed property: no citizen may possess more than another, but all must have an equal share in the civic land.

The second concerns wealth in money. Because money-making is held in disrepute there, the rivalry that grows out of having more or less is removed altogether from the state.

A third point is that among the Spartans the kings hold office for life by hereditary right, while the men called elders likewise hold office for life, and through them and with them the whole state is governed.

Chapter 46 Greed Among the Cretans

Among the Cretans the exact opposite of all this is true. Their laws allow them, as the saying goes, to acquire land without limit according to their power.

Money is held in such honor among them that possessing it seems not only necessary but positively admirable.

Indeed greed for base profit and grasping selfishness are so deeply rooted there that among the Cretans alone of all mankind no gain of any kind is considered shameful.

Their magistracies too are annual, and their system has a democratic character.

So I often wonder how anyone could describe constitutions that are so opposite in nature as if they were kindred and closely related.

And besides overlooking differences of such importance, these writers go on at length in praise of Lycurgus, saying that he alone among lawgivers grasped the essential point.

For since there are two things by which every constitution is preserved—courage against enemies and concord among citizens—they say that by abolishing greed he abolished at the same time all civil strife and faction.

That is why the Spartans, being free from such evils, became the best-governed and most united people in Greece in their relations with one another.

Yet though these same writers can see, by direct comparison, that the Cretans because of their inborn greed are constantly entangled in private and public seditions, murders, and civil wars, they still think this does not affect their argument and boldly say the two constitutions are alike.

Ephorus even uses almost the same language for both systems, so that if someone paid no attention to the proper names, he could hardly tell which constitution was being described.

So much, then, for the ways in which the two differ. I must now explain why the Cretan constitution is neither admirable nor worthy of imitation.

Chapter 47 What Makes a Constitution Good

I think there are two fundamental principles in every constitution, and by these its powers and structure become either desirable or objectionable: customs and laws.

Good customs and laws make men’s private lives reverent and self-controlled, and make the public character of the city gentle and just; bad ones do the opposite.

So whenever we see excellent customs and laws among a people, we confidently conclude that the men themselves and their constitution will also be good.

And when we see private lives marked by greed and public conduct marked by injustice, it is plainly reasonable to say that their laws, customs, and whole political order are bad.

Now apart from a very few exceptions, one could hardly find private conduct more treacherous than that of the Cretans, or public measures more unjust.

Therefore, since their constitution is neither like the Spartan nor in any way worthy of choice or imitation, I reject it from this comparison.

Nor is it right to introduce Plato's republic either, even though some philosophers speak of it with admiration.

For just as we do not admit to athletic contests those performers or athletes who have neither won recognition nor undergone proper training, so we should not admit Plato's constitution to this contest for first place unless it can first demonstrate some real achievement in practice.

As things stand, to compare it with the constitutions of Sparta, Rome, and Carthage would be like setting up a statue beside living, breathing men and inviting comparison.

Even if the statue were flawless as a work of art, comparing the lifeless with the living would still strike the spectators as inadequate and entirely out of place.

Chapter 48 Institutions of Lycurgus

Leaving those aside, I return to the Spartan constitution.

It seems to me that Lycurgus legislated and planned so well for securing harmony among the citizens, preserving Laconia safely, and maintaining Sparta's freedom that one might think his insight something more than human.

Equality in property, simplicity and commonality in daily life were likely to make private conduct disciplined and the public order free from faction, while training men to endure labor and danger would make them brave and high-minded.

When courage and self-control come together in one soul or one city, vice can hardly grow from them, nor can such men easily be overcome by their neighbors.

By constructing his constitution on these principles, Lycurgus secured lasting safety for all Laconia and left the Spartans themselves a freedom that endured for a very long time.

But as for conquering neighboring peoples, gaining supremacy, and in general competing for wider power, he seems to me to have made no provision at all, either in particular measures or in the system as a whole.

What still remained was to create in the citizens some necessity or settled purpose that would make the common spirit of the city, as well as private life, self-sufficient and moderate.

In fact, although he made them utterly disinterested and sober-minded in their own personal lives and in the institutions of their own city, he left them toward the rest of Greece excessively ambitious, hungry for rule, and greedy for advantage.

Chapter 49 The Defect in the Spartan Constitution

Who does not know that the Spartans were among the first Greeks to cast covetous eyes on their neighbors' land, and for sheer greed undertook a war to enslave the Messenians?

And who has not read that, out of stubborn rivalry, they swore not to raise the siege until they had taken Messene by force?

It is equally well known to everyone that, out of their passion for supremacy in Greece, they later submitted to take orders from the very people whom they had once defeated in battle.

For when the Persians invaded, they fought and won in defense of Greek freedom.

But after the invaders had gone back and fled, the Spartans handed over the Greek cities to them in the Peace of Antalcidas, in order to get money for their domination over Greece.

It was then that the defect in their legislation became visible.

As long as they aimed only at ruling their immediate neighbors, and later the Peloponnesians themselves, the resources and supplies of Laconia were enough for them. They had provisions ready at hand and could make rapid returns home and easy transport of supplies.

But once they undertook to send fleets overseas and to campaign with armies outside the Peloponnese, it became obvious that neither their iron currency nor the exchange of yearly produce, in accordance with Lycurgus' laws, could supply what they lacked.

Such enterprises required a currency accepted everywhere and provisions from abroad.

So they were compelled to stand at Persian doors, impose tribute on the islanders, and levy silver from all the Greeks, having learned that under Lycurgus' legislation it was impossible not only to claim the leadership of Greece but, in fact, to compete for great affairs at all.

Chapter 50 Sparta Compared with Rome

Why, then, have I gone into this digression? So that the facts themselves may make clear that Lycurgus' legislation is sufficient for the secure preservation of a people's own territory and for maintaining its freedom.

And for those who regard that as the proper end of a constitution, it must be granted that no arrangement has ever existed, or does now exist, more choiceworthy than the Spartan order and system.

But if someone aims at greater things, and thinks it finer and nobler to lead many peoples, to prevail over them and rule them, and to have all men look toward him and depend on him, then he must admit that the Spartan constitution is deficient in this respect, while the Roman constitution is superior and possesses a stronger organization for power.

This too has been made plain by events themselves. When the Spartans set out to win the leadership of Greece, they quickly put even their own freedom at risk.

The Romans, by contrast, once they had secured dominion over Italy, in a short time brought the whole inhabited world under their power, and a great part of their success came from the abundance and ready availability of their supplies.

Chapter 51 Carthage Compared with Rome

The Carthaginian constitution, in its original form, seems to me to have been well framed in its main divisions.

They had kings, their council of elders possessed aristocratic authority, and the people held power in the matters that belonged to them. In general, the fitting together of the whole closely resembled that of Rome and Sparta.

But at the time when Carthage entered the war with Hannibal, the Carthaginian constitution was already worse, while the Roman was better.

For every body, constitution, and undertaking has a natural growth, then a peak, and after that decline; and everything is strongest at its peak. That is exactly why these constitutions differed at that moment.

Carthage had become strong and prosperous earlier than Rome; and by just so much, at that time Carthage was already past its prime, while Rome, so far as its constitution was concerned, was then at its very height.

Accordingly, in Carthage the people had already gained the greater share of power in deliberations, while at Rome the Senate was still in its prime.

So where policy was being debated by the many in the one state, and by the best men in the other, Roman deliberation proved stronger in public affairs.

That is why, even after suffering grave disasters, they finally overcame the Carthaginians in the war through the soundness of their counsels.

Chapter 52 The Causes of Roman Superiority

If we look at particular matters, such as the provisions for war, the Carthaginians are naturally better practiced and better prepared for naval service, since from ancient times that skill has been hereditary among them and they are more devoted to the sea than any other people.

But in land warfare the Romans train themselves far more effectively than the Carthaginians.

The Romans devote their whole effort to this; the Carthaginians neglect their infantry altogether and take only slight thought even for their cavalry.

The reason is that the Carthaginians use foreign and mercenary forces, whereas the Romans use native troops and citizens.

In this respect the Roman constitution deserves the preference over the Carthaginian. The one rests its hopes of freedom on the courage of mercenaries; the Roman state rests them on the valor of its own citizens and the support of its allies.

That is why, even if they suffer an initial defeat, the Romans recover and continue the war, whereas the Carthaginians do the opposite.

For the Romans fight for their homeland and their children, and they can never let their anger slacken, but persist with all their spirit until they overcome their enemies.

So although the Romans, as I said before, are far inferior in naval experience, they nevertheless prevail overall because of the courage of their men.

For even though seamanship contributes a great deal in fighting at sea, the bravery of the marines weighs most heavily in deciding victory.

Indeed, all the peoples of Italy are by nature superior to Phoenicians and Libyans alike in bodily strength and in daring; and beyond that, their training powerfully encourages the young toward such conduct.

One example will be enough to show how seriously the Roman constitution is concerned with producing men willing to endure anything in order to win the reputation for courage in their own country.

Chapter 53 Roman Funeral Rites

Whenever one of their distinguished men dies, during the funeral procession the body, together with all its honors, is carried into the forum to the place called the Rostra, sometimes set upright in full view, though more rarely laid out reclining.

With the whole people standing around, his son—if he has left one of full age and he happens to be present—or otherwise some other relative, mounts the Rostra and speaks about the dead man's virtues and the achievements he accomplished in life.

By this means the deeds are brought back before the eyes of the crowd, and not only those who shared in them but even those who had no part in them are moved to sympathy, so that the loss seems not a private sorrow for the mourners but a public one for the whole people.

After the burial and the customary rites, they place the likeness of the dead man in the most conspicuous part of the house, enclosed in a small wooden shrine.

This likeness is a mask made in an extraordinarily faithful resemblance, both in features and in coloring.

They display these images at public sacrifices with great care, and whenever another eminent member of the family dies, they carry them in the funeral procession, placing them on men who seem to match the originals as closely as possible in height and general build.

These men put on the garments appropriate to the offices the dead once held: if the man was a consul or praetor, garments with purple border; if a censor, purple robes; if he had celebrated a triumph or done some equivalent deed, robes embroidered with gold.

They ride in chariots, and before them are carried the rods, axes, and all the other insignia proper to the magistracies, in proportion to the rank each had reached in the service of the state during his lifetime.

When they reach the Rostra, they all sit in order on ivory chairs. A young man who loves glory and noble deeds could hardly behold a finer sight.

For who would not be stirred by seeing all at once the images of men famous for their virtue, as if they were living and breathing? What spectacle could be more splendid?

Chapter 54 The Glorious Memory of Brave Men Kept Alive

And the speaker, after finishing his account of the man who is about to be buried, goes on to the others whose representatives are present, beginning with the most ancient and recounting the successes and deeds of each.

Thus the renown of good men is continually made new, the glory of those who achieved some noble deed is made immortal, and the fame of those who benefited their country becomes known to the multitude and handed down to later generations.

Most of all, the young are inspired to endure every hardship for the common good in hopes of winning the glory that attends brave men.

And what I say is confirmed by the facts. Many Romans have voluntarily fought single combats on which the issue of the whole battle depended, and not a few have chosen certain death, some in war for the safety of others, some in peace for the security of the commonwealth.

There have even been magistrates who put their own sons to death, against every custom and every law, valuing the interest of their country above the natural bond with their nearest kin.

Many such stories are told of many Roman men, but one example named specifically will be enough for the present, both as proof and as illustration.

Chapter 55 Patriotism and Purity At Rome

They tell the story of Horatius, surnamed Cocles. While he was fighting against two of the enemy at the far end of the bridge over the Tiber, the bridge that stands before the city, he saw a large body coming up to support them and feared that they would force their way across into the city.

So he turned and shouted to the men behind him to retreat as quickly as possible and break down the bridge. They obeyed, and while they were cutting it apart he held his ground, receiving many wounds and checking the enemy's advance—not so much because they were daunted by his strength as because they were astonished by his steadfastness and daring.

Once the bridge had been broken, the enemy's attack was stopped; and Cocles, throwing himself into the river in full armor, deliberately gave up his life, valuing the safety of his country and the glory he would win thereafter more than his present life and all the years still left to him.

Such, it seems, is the zeal and ambition for noble deeds that Roman customs implant in the young.

Chapter 56 Religion Keeps the Roman Commonwealth Together

In matters of money as well, Roman customs and principles are better than those of the Carthaginians.

Among the Carthaginians nothing connected with profit is considered shameful; among the Romans nothing is more disgraceful than taking bribes and making gain from what one ought not.

For the Romans hold honest profit in honor exactly as far as they hold gain from forbidden sources in reproach.

The proof is this: among the Carthaginians men openly give gifts to obtain office, whereas among the Romans the penalty for such conduct is death.

Since the prizes offered for virtue are thus opposite among the two peoples, it is natural that their ways of pursuing them should also be different.

But the greatest superiority of the Roman constitution, in my opinion, lies in their attitude toward the gods.

Indeed, what among other peoples is criticized as superstition is, I think, the very thing that holds the Roman state together.

This element has been carried so far among them and introduced so thoroughly into both private life and public business that nothing could surpass it, and many might find that astonishing.

For my part, I think they have done this for the sake of the multitude.

If it were possible to found a state composed of wise men, perhaps such a device would not be necessary.

But since every crowd is fickle, full of lawless desires, irrational anger, and violent passion, the only thing left is to keep the masses in check by unseen fears and such theatrical impressions.

So it seems to me that the ancients were not introducing notions about the gods and beliefs about punishments in the underworld among the people at random or without purpose; rather, those of our own day act rashly and senselessly in trying to cast them out.

This is why, among other things, Greek officials entrusted with only a single talent, though they have ten clerks, as many seals, and twice as many witnesses, still cannot be trusted to keep faith.

At Rome, by contrast, men serving in offices or embassies handle very large sums of money, yet through the force of their oath alone they remain faithful to their duty.

And whereas among other peoples it is rare to find a man who keeps his hands off public money and stays clean in such matters, among the Romans it is rare to catch anyone in the act of such wrongdoing.

Chapter 57 Conclusion: Dangers Ahead for Rome

That everything which exists is subject to decay and change hardly needs further argument, for the necessity imposed by nature is enough to establish that truth.

And since every kind of constitution naturally decays in two ways, one from external causes and one from causes that grow within itself, the external mode is impossible to define with certainty, but the internal follows a set order.

I have already explained what form of constitution naturally comes first, what comes second, and how they pass into one another, so that those able to connect the beginning with the end of the present discussion can already predict the future for themselves. In my judgment the result is plain.

For when a state has survived many great dangers and afterwards reached undisputed supremacy and power, it is obvious that as prosperity settles into it over time, private lives become more luxurious and men grow more ambitious than they should in the pursuit of office and other objects.

As these tendencies advance, the beginning of decline will come from love of office, from resentment at loss of status, and, along with these, from arrogance and luxury in private life.

The people will be the agents through whom the change gains its name, once they come to think that some men wrong them out of greed while others puff them up with flattery because they are hunting office.

For then, in anger and making every decision under the sway of passion, the people will no longer be willing to obey or even to share power equally with their leaders, but will want the whole or the greater part for themselves.

And when that happens, the constitution will take on the finest of names—freedom and democracy—but in reality it will become the worst of things, mob-rule.

Since I have now discussed the composition, growth, zenith, present condition, and differences—both for better and for worse—of the Roman constitution as compared with others, I here bring this account of the constitution to its conclusion.

Chapter 58 Even Hannibal Acknowledges the Spirit of the Romans

Now, returning to the connected course of the history at the point from which I digressed, I will briefly recall one action, so that I may make the excellence and power of the Roman constitution at that time clear not by argument alone but by deeds, as if a master craftsman were displaying one specimen of his work.

After Hannibal won the battle at Cannae and captured the eight thousand Romans who were guarding the camp, he took them all alive and allowed them to send envoys home to negotiate their ransom and salvation.

They selected ten of their most distinguished men, and after making them swear that they would return to him, Hannibal sent them off.

But one of those chosen, after already leaving the camp, said that he had forgotten something and turned back; after retrieving what he had left behind he set out again, thinking that by his return he had kept faith and released himself from the oath.

When the envoys reached Rome, they begged and urged the Senate not to begrudge the captured men their safety, but to let each of them save himself by paying three minae and returning to his family, for Hannibal, they said, was willing to grant that.

They also argued that the prisoners deserved rescue, since they had neither shown cowardice in the battle nor done anything unworthy of Rome, but had merely been left to guard the camp and, after all the others had perished in battle, had been overtaken by circumstances and surrendered to the enemy.

Yet the Romans, though they had suffered terrible losses in battle, had been deprived of almost all their allies, and could expect before long to face danger for their very fatherland, still, after hearing

these pleas, neither yielded in the face of disaster in any way unworthy of themselves nor overlooked anything that sound judgment required.

They saw Hannibal's purpose: by this act he meant both to get money and to strip the opposing troops of their eagerness for battle by showing that even the defeated still had hope of safety.

So far were they from doing what was requested that they counted neither pity for the men's relatives nor the future use they might have of greater importance.

Instead, by refusing to ransom the prisoners, they proved Hannibal's calculation and his hopes empty, and they laid down for their own people the rule that in battle they must either conquer or die, since for the defeated no other hope of safety remained.

Accordingly they dismissed the nine envoys, who returned voluntarily in accordance with their oath, but the one who had tried by a trick to escape his oath they bound and sent back to the enemy.

Thus Hannibal was not so much delighted by his victory over the Romans in battle as shaken and astonished by the steadiness and greatness of spirit the Romans showed in their deliberations.

Chapter 59 Rhynchos near Stratus

There is also a place near Stratus in Aetolia called Rhynchos, as Polybius says in his Histories.

Book VII

Lagoras and his commandos scaling the sheer rock of the citadel of Sardis (214 BC). Book VII, 15–18.

Chapter 1 Capua and Petelia

Quoted by Athenaeus, Deipnosophistae; the last sentence by Suidas, Lexicon.

Polybius says in the seventh book that the people of Capua in Campania, made wealthy by the excellence of their land, drifted into luxury and extravagance, surpassing even the famous reputation of Croton and Sybaris.

So, he says, being unable to bear their present prosperity, they called in Hannibal. For that reason they later suffered irreparable disasters at Roman hands.

The people of Petelia, on the other hand, kept faith with Rome and showed such endurance under Hannibal's siege that, after eating all the leather in the city and consuming the bark and tender shoots of every tree in it, and after holding out for eleven months with no help arriving, they finally surrendered with the Romans' consent.

Capua, after going over to the Carthaginians, used its influence to draw the other cities over as well.

Chapter 2 Hieronymus Sends Envoys to Hannibal

After the plot against Hieronymus, king of the Syracusans, and after Thraso's withdrawal, the party of Zoippus and Andranodorus persuaded Hieronymus to send envoys to Hannibal at once.

So he selected Polycleitus of Cyrene and Philodemus of Argos and sent them to Italy with instructions to discuss joint action with the Carthaginians; at the same time he sent his brothers to Alexandria.

Hannibal received Polycleitus and Philodemus graciously, held out great hopes to the young king, and quickly sent the envoys back, along with Hannibal the Carthaginian, who was then admiral of a trireme, and the Syracusans Hippocrates and his younger brother Epicydes.

These men had already been serving with Hannibal for some time and had entered Carthaginian service because their grandfather had fled Syracuse after being thought to have laid hands on Agatharchus, one of Agathocles' sons.

When they reached Syracuse, Polycleitus and his colleague delivered the report of their embassy, and the Carthaginian envoy spoke according to the instructions Hannibal had given him. Hieronymus was at once ready to join the Carthaginians in their affairs.

He declared that the Hannibal who had come to him ought to go off to Carthage at once, and he promised to send men of his own with him to conduct negotiations with the Carthaginians.

Chapter 3 Hieronymus Rebuffs the Roman Envoys

At this same time the Roman commander stationed at Lilybaeum learned what was happening and sent envoys to Hieronymus to renew the treaty that had been made with his ancestors.

But Hieronymus, while the Carthaginian envoys were still close at hand [...], said that he pitied the Romans because wicked men had perished miserably in the battles in Italy at Carthaginian hands.

The envoys were shocked by such insolence, but they still asked who had told him such things. He pointed to the Carthaginian envoys who were present and told the Romans to expose them if they happened to be lying.

They replied that it was not their custom to trust enemies, and they urged him to do nothing contrary to the treaty, since that would be both just and greatly to his advantage. He said he would deliberate and later make his answer clear to them.

But he asked them how it had happened that, before his grandfather's death, they had sailed with fifty ships as far as Pachynus and then turned back again.

What had happened was that the Romans had shortly before heard that Hiero was dead, and had feared that some disturbance might arise in Syracuse because people would despise the age of the boy left behind.

So they admitted that they had made the voyage in order to support his youth and help preserve his rule, but that when they learned his grandfather was still alive, they had sailed back.

At this the young king answered again, "Then allow me as well, Romans, to preserve my rule now by turning back toward Carthaginian hopes."

The Romans understood the direction of his policy. For the moment they said nothing and returned, reported what had been said to the man who had sent them, and from then on kept watch on Hieronymus as an enemy.

Chapter 4 The Treaty with Carthage

Hieronymus then chose Agatharchus, Onesigenes, and Hipposthenes and sent them with Hannibal to the Carthaginians, instructing them to conclude a treaty on the following terms.

The Carthaginians were to assist him with both land and sea forces, and after driving the Romans from Sicily they were to divide the island so that the river Himera, which nearly splits Sicily in two, should be the boundary between the two spheres of rule.

When these envoys reached the Carthaginians, they negotiated on this basis and accomplished their mission, since the Carthaginians readily agreed to everything.

Meanwhile Hippocrates and his circle took the young king in hand and at first captivated him by describing Hannibal's marches, battle lines, and battles in Italy.

After that they told him that no one had a better claim than he to rule over all the Siceliots, first because he was the grandson through his mother Nereis of Pyrrhus, the only man whom all the Siceliots had willingly and deliberately approved as their leader and king, and second because of the sovereign position held by his grandfather Hiero.

In the end they so completely turned the boy's head that he paid no attention to anyone else, partly because he was unstable by nature and still more because they had now filled him with lofty ambition.

At the very moment when Agatharchus and his colleagues were completing the first arrangement at Carthage, he sent another embassy, now claiming that the whole rule of Sicily belonged to him, demanding that the Carthaginians help him recover Sicily, while he in turn promised to support them in their operations in Italy.

The Carthaginians saw perfectly well the complete instability and madness of the boy, but they also believed for many reasons that it was to their advantage not to lose their hold on Sicilian affairs.

So they assented to all his demands, and, having already prepared ships and soldiers beforehand, they proceeded with plans to transport their forces to Sicily.

Chapter 5 Hieronymus Decides For War

When the Romans learned of this, they again sent envoys to him, protesting that he must not violate the treaties made with his forefathers.

Hieronymus therefore called the council together and put before it the question of what should be done.

The native members kept quiet, fearing the poor judgment of the ruler; but Aristomachus of Corinth, Damippus the Spartan, and Autonous the Thessalian urged him to stand by the treaties with Rome.

Andranodorus alone said that they must not let the opportunity slip, and that the present moment was the only one in which it was possible to win dominion over Sicily.

After he had said this, Hieronymus asked the party around Hippocrates what opinion they held. When they said they agreed with Andranodorus, the deliberation was brought to an end. In this way war against Rome was decided upon.

But because he wanted to seem clever rather than clumsy in answering the ambassadors, he fell into such a blunder that he was plainly about not only to displease the Romans, but to offend them

outright.

For he said that he would keep the treaty if, first, they restored all the gold they had received from his grandfather Hiero; second, if they repaid for the whole past period the grain and the other gifts they had received from him; and third, if they acknowledged that the land and cities on this side of the river Himera belonged to the Syracusans.

On these terms the envoys and the council separated. From that time onward Hieronymus and his circle actively pushed the war forward, gathering forces, arming them, and preparing the rest of the necessary supplies.

Chapter 6 Description of Leontini

The city of Leontini as a whole faces north, and through the middle of it there runs a level valley, in which stand the public offices, the courts, and, in general, the market-place.

On each side of this valley stretches a ridge with steep escarpments all along it; and the level tops of these hills, above the brows, are full of houses and temples.

The city has two gates. One stands at the southern end of the valley I mentioned and leads toward Syracuse; the other is at the northern end and leads to the so-called Leontine plains and the farming country.

Below one of the escarpments, the western one, there runs a river called the Lissus.

Parallel to it, immediately under the cliff, stand many continuous rows of houses; and between these houses and the river lies the road mentioned above.

Chapter 7 Fall of Hieronymus

Some of the writers who have written about the downfall of Hieronymus have made a very long story of it and arranged it with a great deal of sensationalism, recounting the omens said to have come before his accession and the misfortunes of the Syracusans, and then writing in tragic style about the savagery of his character, the impiety of his actions, and, on top of everything, the shocking and terrible circumstances of his fall, so that one would think neither Phalaris nor Apollodorus nor any other tyrant had ever been harsher than he.

And yet he was only a boy when he came to power, and after that lived no more than thirteen months.

During that time it is possible that one man or another was put to the torture and that some of his friends and some other Syracusans were killed; but it is not likely that there was any extreme excess of lawlessness or some unparalleled kind of impiety.

One should indeed say that in character he was exceptionally reckless and unlawful, but he ought not to be compared with any of the tyrants mentioned above.

It seems to me that writers of histories about particular episodes, once they have taken up subjects that are narrow and easy to cover, are forced by poverty of material to make small things great and to spend many words on matters not even worth remembering. Some too fall into much the same error through sheer lack of judgment.

How much more reasonably could someone have spent the space used to pad out books and spin the narrative out at length on Hiero and Gelo, leaving Hieronymus aside.

Chapter 8 Character of Hiero II

For such a subject is more pleasing to those who enjoy hearing history, and altogether more useful to those who wish to learn. For Hiero, first of all, won for himself the rule over Syracuse and its allies by his own efforts, inheriting neither wealth nor reputation nor any other ready-made advantage from fortune.

Indeed, without killing, banishing, or harming a single one of the citizens, he became king of the Syracusans by his own merits, which is the most astonishing thing of all; and still more astonishing is the fact that he not only acquired his power in this way, but preserved it in the same way.

For though he reigned for fifty-four years, he kept peace for his fatherland, preserved his own rule free from plots, and escaped the envy that usually accompanies great power.

In fact, when he more than once tried to lay down his sovereignty, he was prevented by the citizens acting together.

By proving exceptionally beneficent and eager for honor in his dealings with the Greeks, he left behind himself a great reputation and won for Syracuse no small measure of goodwill from all.

And though he lived amid immense abundance, luxury, and wealth, he survived to more than ninety years of age, kept all his senses, and preserved every part of his body unimpaired.

This seems to me no small sign, but a very great one, of a temperate life.

Gelo too, after living more than fifty years, set before himself as the noblest aim in life obedience to the father who begot him, and he counted neither wealth nor royal greatness nor anything else whatever as more important than affection and loyalty toward his parents.

Chapter 9 Treaty Between Hannibal and King Philip V. of Macedon

This is the oath that Hannibal the general, Mago, Myrcan, Barmocar, and all the Carthaginian senators who were with him, together with all the Carthaginians serving in the campaign with him, swore to

Xenophanes son of Cleomachus, the Athenian envoy whom King Philip son of Demetrius sent to us on behalf of himself, the Macedonians, and their allies.

It was sworn in the presence of Zeus, Hera, and Apollo; in the presence of the god of the Carthaginians, and of Heracles and Iolaus; in the presence of Ares, Triton, and Poseidon; in the presence of the gods who go with the army, and of the Sun, the Moon, and the Earth; in the presence of rivers, harbors, and waters; in the presence of all the gods who hold Carthage, all the gods who hold Macedonia and the rest of Greece, and all the gods of war who stand witness to this oath.

Hannibal the general, all the Carthaginian senators with him, and all the Carthaginians serving with him said that, since it seemed good both to you and to us to establish this oath concerning friendship and honorable goodwill, we should be friends, kinsmen, and brothers on the following terms.

The Carthaginians, Hannibal the general and those with him, the Carthaginian magistrates who live under the same laws, the people of Utica, all cities and nations subject to Carthage, and their soldiers and allies, and all the cities and nations in Italy, Celtica, and Liguria with whom we are in friendship, and any others in that region with whom we may later make friendship and alliance, shall be kept safe by King Philip, the Macedonians, and the rest of the Greeks who are their allies.

Likewise King Philip, the Macedonians, and the allies among the other Greeks shall be kept safe and protected by the Carthaginians serving in this campaign, by the people of Utica, by all the cities and nations subject to Carthage, by the allies and soldiers, and by all the nations and cities in Italy, Celtica, and Liguria, and by any others who may become allies in those parts of Italy.

We shall not plot against one another or use ambush against one another, but with all zeal and goodwill, without deceit or treachery, we shall be enemies to those who make war on the Carthaginians, excepting those kings, cities, and harbors with whom we have sworn agreements and friendships.

And we in turn shall be enemies to those who make war on King Philip, excepting those kings, cities, and nations with whom we have sworn agreements and friendships.

You shall also be our allies in the war we are waging against the Romans, until the gods grant prosperity to both you and us.

And you shall help us whenever there is need and in whatever way we agree.

And if the gods grant us success in the war against the Romans and their allies, and if the Romans wish to make terms of friendship, we shall make terms on condition that the same friendship extends to you as well, and that it shall never be lawful for them to make war against you, nor shall the Romans be masters of Corcyra, Apollonia, Epidamnus, Pharos, Dimale, Parthini, or Atintania.

They shall also restore to Demetrius of Pharos all his own people who are in the Roman commonwealth.

But if the Romans make war on you or on us, we shall help one another in the war, as each party may need.

The same shall hold if any others do so, apart from those kings, cities, and nations with whom we have sworn agreements and friendships.

And if it seems good to us to remove anything from this oath or to add anything to it, we shall remove or add it as seems good to both of us.

Chapter 10 Messene and Philip V. in 215 BC

Quoted by Suidas, Lexicon.

While democracy was in force among the Messenians, the notable men had been driven into exile, and those who had received allotments of their property held power in the state; so the members of the old citizen body who remained found it hard to endure these men's equality of speech.

Gorgus of Messene was second to no Messenian in wealth or birth, and in the prime of life he had become the most distinguished of all those who sought crowns in athletic contests.

For in outward appearance, in the dignity of the rest of his life, and in the number of his victories, he fell short of no one of his contemporaries.

And when he gave up athletics and turned to public life and the service of his country, in that sphere too he won a reputation no less than the one he already had, being thought far removed from the vulgarity that clings to athletes, and regarded as exceptionally effective and prudent in public affairs.

Chapter 11 Philip Dissuaded from Taking Messene

For the present, after bringing my narrative to a pause, I want to speak briefly about Philip, because this was the beginning of his reversal and of his movement and change for the worse.

It seems to me that for practical men who wish, even little by little, to improve themselves from the lessons of history, this offers a very vivid example.

For both because the beginning of his career was so conspicuous and because his natural gifts were so brilliant, the impulses of this king in either direction became especially clear and widely known to all the Greeks, and the consequences that followed each set of impulses likewise stood out plainly by comparison.

That after he succeeded to the kingship Thessaly, Macedonia, and in general all the regions under his own rule were more loyal and better disposed toward him than they had been toward any former king, though he took over the Macedonian power while still a young man, can easily be learned from the following facts.

For though he was constantly drawn away from Macedonia by the war against the Aetolians and Spartans, not only did none of the peoples just mentioned break into civil disorder, but none of the neighboring barbarians even dared to touch Macedonia.

And it would not be possible to speak adequately of the affection and eagerness shown toward him by Alexander, Chrysogonus, and his other friends.

The same may be said of the Peloponnesians and Boeotians, and likewise of the Epirotes and Acarnanians [...] and of how many benefits he was in a short time the cause to each of them.

Indeed, if one may put it somewhat boldly, I think this description suited Philip very well: by the beneficence of his policy he became something like the common darling of the Greeks.

A most conspicuous and important proof of what a noble purpose and good faith can accomplish is that all the Cretans, after coming to agreement and entering the same alliance, chose Philip alone as protector of the island, and this was accomplished without arms and without danger, something one would not easily find to have happened before.

From the events at Messene onward, however, everything in his case took on the opposite character; and this happened naturally.

For once he turned to a policy opposite to his former one, and kept adding to it what was consistent with that choice, he was bound to reverse other men's opinions about him and to meet with results opposite to those he had previously enjoyed.

And that indeed is what happened. This will become clear to attentive readers from the events I am about to recount.

Chapter 12 Philip's Loss of Popularity

When Philip king of Macedon wanted to seize the acropolis of the Messenians, and told the leading men of the city that he wished to see the citadel and sacrifice to Zeus, he went up with his attendants and performed the sacrifice. Then, when according to custom the entrails of the victims that had been offered were brought to him, he took them in his hands, turned a little aside, and stretching them out toward Aratus and his party asked, "What do the omens seem to signify: that I should withdraw from the citadel, or hold it?"

Demetrius at once broke in from where he stood and said, "If you have the mind of a seer, withdraw as fast as you can; but if you have the mind of an active king, keep hold of it, so that after letting it go now you may not later be looking for a better opportunity.

For in this way, by holding both horns, you alone would keep the ox under your control," by which he meant Ithome and Acrocorinth, and by the ox the Peloponnese.

Philip turned to Aratus and said, “And do you advise the same?” When Aratus hesitated, Philip pressed him to say what he really thought.

After some uncertainty Aratus said, “If you can hold this place without breaking faith with the Messenians, I advise you to hold it.

But if by occupying this place with a garrison you mean to destroy every acropolis and the very guard —meaning good faith—by which the allies you received from Antigonus were protected, consider whether it is not better now to lead your men out and leave their trust behind, and by that trust to guard the Messenians, and likewise the rest of your allies.”

Philip by his own inclination was ready to break faith, as later events made clear.

But because he had shortly before been sharply rebuked by the younger Aratus for the destruction of those men, and because on this occasion the elder Aratus spoke with frankness and authority and begged him not to ignore what was said, Philip felt ashamed.

Taking him by the right hand, he said, “Then let us go back by the same road.”

Chapter 13 Philip Begins to Become a Tyrant

Aratus, seeing that Philip had openly taken up the war against Rome and had been completely altered in his policy toward his allies, only with difficulty turned Philip aside, after raising many objections and pretexts.

We, however, now wish to remind those who are following this work that what in the fifth book we mentioned only by promise and assertion has now received confirmation from the facts themselves, so that we may leave none of our conclusions unsupported or open to dispute.

For when, in narrating the Aetolian War, we paused at the point where we said that Philip had with too much passion destroyed the porticoes at Thermus and the rest of the votive offerings, and that the cause of these actions should be referred not so much to the king, because of his youth, as to the friends around him, we then said that Aratus’ life itself was a sufficient defense of the claim that he would have done nothing base, whereas Demetrius of Pharos had exactly such a cast of mind.

And we promised to make this clear from what would be recounted later, postponing until this point the proof of that earlier judgment, the moment when, with Demetrius present, as we have just shown in the affair at Messene, and Aratus delayed by only a single day, Philip began to lay hands on the gravest acts of impiety.

And as if, after tasting human blood and the murder and betrayal of allies, he had been changed—not from a man into a wolf, as in the Arcadian myth cited by Plato, but from a king into a savage tyrant.

An even clearer proof of the character of the two men is the advice given about the citadel, helping us not to remain uncertain even about the events concerning the [...]

Chapter 14 Aratus a Moderating Influence on Philip

[...] Aetolians. Once these points are admitted, it is already easy to reckon up the difference in the policy of the two men.

For just as now, when Philip listened to Aratus, he kept faith with the Messenians in the matter of the citadel, and, as the saying goes, applied a small remedy to the great wound created by the earlier slaughter, so in the Aetolian affair, when he followed Demetrius, he sinned against the gods by destroying consecrated offerings, wronged men by transgressing the laws of war, and missed the mark of his proper policy, making himself an implacable and bitter enemy to those who differed with him.

The same reasoning applies also to the affairs in Crete. For there too, when he used Aratus as his guide in the larger policy, he not only committed no injustice, but did not even offend any of the islanders; he kept all the Cretans under his hand and drew all the Greeks into goodwill toward himself by the dignity of his conduct.

But then again, once he followed Demetrius and became responsible for the misfortunes of the Messenians just described, he lost at once both the goodwill of his allies and the trust of the rest of the Greeks.

So great is the weight for young kings, both toward the ruin and toward the restoration of their rule, that lies in the choice and judgment of the friends who attend them—a matter about which most men, I do not know how, are careless and give not even the slightest forethought.

Chapter 14b A Forged Letter and the Cretans

Quoted by Suidas, Lexicon.

They sent out some of the Cretans as if for a raid, after giving them a forged letter.

Chapter 14c The Massylians of Libya

Quoted by Stephanus of Byzantium, Ethnica.

The Massylians are a Libyan people. Polybius in the seventh book calls them the Massyleis.

Chapter 14d Oricus on the Adriatic

Quoted by Stephanus of Byzantium, Ethnica.

The name is used in the masculine, as Polybius has it in the seventh book: “those who inhabit Oricus, who are also the first to lie on the right for a man sailing in toward the Adriatic.”

Chapter 15 The War of Antiochus with Achaeus

Around Sardis there were unceasing and continuous skirmishes and dangers by night and by day, as the soldiers on both sides devised every kind of ambush, counter-ambush, and surprise attack against one another; to write out the details would be not only useless but altogether too long.

In the end, when the siege had already entered its second year, Lagoras the Cretan, a man with considerable experience in warfare, observed that the strongest cities generally fall most easily into the hands of enemies because of the carelessness of those who live in them, whenever, trusting in their natural or man-made strength, they neglect guard duty and grow wholly slack.

He had also recognized that captures tend to be made precisely at the strongest points, the very places the enemy thinks beyond hope.

So at that time, seeing that the prevailing opinion about the strength of Sardis had led everyone to despair of taking it by such an operation, and that they had only one hope left, namely to master the city through famine, he paid all the more attention and explored every possible course, eager to seize on some opening of that kind.

When he noticed that the wall near the place called the Saw—this is the point joining the citadel and the city—was left unguarded, he conceived this hope and plan.

He discovered the negligence of the guards from the following sign.

The place was extremely precipitous, and below it lay a ravine into which the dead from the city and the carcasses of horses and pack animals were thrown; and so there was always a gathering there of vultures and other birds.

Observing this, the man I mentioned noticed that when the birds had eaten their fill they regularly settled and rested on the cliffs and on the wall, and from this he concluded that the wall was necessarily unguarded and remained deserted for most of the time.

After that he approached by night with care and examined the possible routes of access and the positions for ladders.

Chapter 16 Antiochus Takes Sardis

And finding that at one place, along one of the cliffs, an ascent was possible, he laid the matter before the king. When the king took up the hope and urged Lagoras to carry out the attempt, the latter promised to do what he could, but asked the king to assign to him Theodotus the Aetolian and Dionysius, the commander of the bodyguard, so that they might join him, lend their aid, and share in the enterprise, since each of them seemed to possess enough strength and daring for the plan in hand.

The king immediately did as he asked, and the men mentioned, after coming to an understanding and sharing all the details among themselves, waited for a moonless night in the hours before dawn.

Once they had obtained such a night, on the very day on which they intended to act, late in the afternoon they selected from the whole camp fifteen of the strongest men in body and spirit, who were to carry the ladders, climb up with them, and share the danger.

After these they chose another thirty men to wait in reserve at some distance, so that when the first party had crossed over and reached the gate nearby, these men should rush up from outside and try to break through the hinges and the gate-fastening, while the others from within dealt with the bar and the bolt-pins.

They also appointed two thousand men to follow after these, who, once they had burst in, were to seize the area around the theatre, which was favorably situated against both those coming from the citadel and those coming from the city.

And so that the selection of the men might not arouse any suspicion of the truth, the king spread the story that the Aetolians were about to force an entry into the city through a certain ravine, and that energetic precautions had to be taken in view of that report.

Chapter 17 The Sack of Sardis

When everything was ready for them, as soon as the moon had gone down, Lagoras and his party came secretly to the cliffs with their ladders and hid themselves under an overhanging ledge.

When day came, and the guards had left that place, and the king, according to custom, had sent some men to their reserve posts while bringing the main body out into the hippodrome and drawing them up, at first what was happening aroused no suspicion in anyone.

But once the two ladders had been set in place, and Dionysius went up first by one while Lagoras went up by the other, excitement and movement spread through the camp.

For those climbing the overhanging brow toward the cliff were out of sight for the people in the city and for Achaeus and his men in the citadel, but from the camp the daring of those who were climbing and pressing on was plainly visible.

Therefore the soldiers there stood speechless and at the same time overjoyed, some amazed by the strangeness of the thing, others foreseeing and fearing what would happen.

The king, seeing the stir throughout the whole camp and wishing to draw off both his own people and those in the city from what was actually under way, led his force forward and attacked the gates on the opposite side, called the Persian Gates.

Achaeus, seeing from the citadel that the movement among the opposing forces was different from what was usual, was greatly perplexed, distressed, and utterly unable to understand what was happening.

Still, he sent men to meet the attack at the gate; but because they had to make their descent by a narrow and precipitous route, the relief was slow in arriving.

Aribazus, who had been posted in the city, rushed in all innocence to the gates where he saw Antiochus attacking; he sent some men up onto the wall, while others he let out through the gate, urging them to keep the attackers off and engage the enemy hand to hand.

Chapter 18 Sardis Destroyed

At this very moment the party with Lagoras, Theodotus, and Dionysius crossed the cliffs and came to the gate below them.

Some of them fought with the men coming to meet them, while others cut through the bars. At the same time the men stationed outside for this purpose rushed up and did nearly the same thing.

The gates were quickly opened, the two thousand entered, and they took possession of the area around the theatre.

Once this happened, all those who had left the walls and the gate called the Persian Gate—the point to which Aribazus and his men had earlier hurried with reinforcements—rushed off in haste to bring support against those who had burst in.

And while this was happening, because the gate was standing open during the withdrawal, some of the king's men burst in as well, following close behind the men who were retreating.

When these men gained control of the gate, others were now entering in an unbroken stream, while others cut through the neighboring gates.

After only a brief struggle against those who had entered, Aribazus and all the people in the city turned and fled toward the citadel.

When that happened, the men with Theodotus and Lagoras remained at the positions by the theatre, acting with intelligence and practical skill as a reserve for the whole operation, while the rest of the force poured in from every side and took the city.

And from then on, some killed everyone they met, some set the houses on fire, and others rushed to plunder and profit, so that the destruction and sack of the city became complete.

Thus Antiochus became master of Sardis.

Book VIII

Archimedes' mechanical grappling claw lifting a Roman warship from the sea at the siege of Syracuse (213–212 BC). Book VIII, 5–8.

Chapter 1 The Necessity of Caution in Dealing with an Enemy

It does not seem to me out of place, in view of the whole plan of this work and the purpose I set out at the beginning, to call my readers' attention to the greatness of the events and to the ambitious resolve shown by each of the two states—I mean Rome and Carthage.

For who would not be struck by the fact that, while they were engaged in so great a war over Italy, and in another no less serious over Iberia, and while both alike still faced uncertain hopes for the future and dangers equally pressing in the present, they were nevertheless not content with the enterprises already before them, but were disputing over Sardinia and Sicily as well [...] and were trying to grasp everything, not only in their hopes, but also with money and military preparation?

This becomes even more astonishing when one looks at the details. The Romans had two complete armies in Italy with the consuls, and two in Iberia, of which Gnaeus held the land command and Publius the naval command.

The same thing, naturally enough, was true among the Carthaginians.

And besides this, a fleet was stationed off the coasts of Greece to watch Philip's movements, first under Marcus Valerius and afterward under Publius Sulpicius.

At the same time Appius, with a hundred quinqueremes, and Marcus Claudius, with land forces, lay ready for operations in Sicily.

Hamilcar on the Carthaginian side was doing the same.

Chapter 2 Immense Exertions of Rome

These facts, I think, now prove by the events themselves the truth of what I said more than once at the beginning of this history.

What I said was that it is impossible, from writers who treat history in separate parts, to gain a view of the management of the whole.

For how can anyone who reads only a narrative of Sicilian affairs or Iberian affairs, taken by themselves, come to understand either the scale of what happened or the continuous connection of events, or by what method and under what form of government Fortune accomplished the most astonishing achievement of our age?

That achievement was to bring all the known parts of the inhabited world under one rule and power—something for which no earlier precedent can be found.

It is possible, to some extent, to learn from separate accounts how the Romans took Syracuse, or how they got possession of Iberia.

But how they reached dominion over all, and what in these separate regions opposed their larger plans, and what in turn helped them, and at what moments—this is hard to grasp without a general history of events as a whole.

For the same reasons, it is not easy to understand either the greatness of their achievements or the strength of their constitution.

Taken by itself, the statement that the Romans laid claim to Iberia or to Sicily, and campaigned there by land and sea, would not seem particularly marvelous.

But when all this is happening at once, together with many other undertakings carried out at the same time by the same state and constitution, and when one considers along with them the crises and wars within their own country that were pressing upon the men directing all these affairs, only then do the events become fully clear and truly astonishing, and only then do they receive the attention they deserve.

Let this stand as my answer to those who suppose that acquaintance with partial narratives gives them knowledge of universal and common history.

Chapter 3 Rome and Carthage Continue to Covet Sardinia and Sicily

When Epicydes and Hippocrates gained control of Syracuse and alienated both themselves and the other citizens from friendship with Rome, the Romans, who had by then also received news of the fall of Hieronymus, tyrant of Syracuse, appointed Appius Claudius to command the land force, while Marcus Claudius was given charge of the fleet.

These commanders pitched their camp not far from the city, and decided to attack by land in the region of the Hexapylae, and by sea against Achradina at the place called the Scythian Stoa, where the wall runs directly along the edge of the sea.

Having prepared screens, missiles, and the other equipment needed for a siege, they expected, thanks to the large number of men employed, to overwhelm the defenders with their preparations within five days. They did not reckon with the power of Archimedes, nor did they foresee that, at certain moments, a single mind can achieve more than the labor of multitudes. But in this case they learned the truth from experience.

For the city was strong because the wall ran all around along high ground and overhanging ridges, to which even without opposition one could not easily approach except at certain fixed points.

The man just mentioned had prepared such defenses within the city, and likewise against those attacking from the sea, that the defenders would never need to waste time in improvising, but could meet every move of the enemy immediately and with resources already in hand.

Appius therefore advanced with screens and ladders toward the section of wall adjoining the Hexapylae on the eastern side.

Chapter 3a A Saying on Silence

Most people can least endure the lightest burden of all—I mean silence.

Chapter 4 History of Universal Supremacy Must Be a Universal History

Marcus, meanwhile, sailed against Achradina with sixty quinqueremes, each one filled with men carrying bows, slings, and javelins, by which they meant to drive back those fighting from the battlements.

At the same time, with eight quinqueremes whose oars had been removed on one side—on the right side of some and the left of others—and which had then been lashed together in pairs along the cleared sides, they brought up against the wall, by means of the outside banks of oars, the machines called sambucae.

The construction of these engines was as follows.

They prepared a ladder four feet wide and of a height equal to that of the wall from the point where it would be landed; they fenced both sides of it and roofed it over with protective coverings, and then laid it slantwise across the touching sides of the coupled ships so that it projected far beyond their prows.

Pulleys with ropes were attached high up on the masts.

Then, when they came near the point of action, they fastened the ropes to the top of the ladder, and men standing on the sterns drew on them through the pulleys, while others standing on the prows braced the machine and secured its lifting with props.

Then, using the oars on the outer sides of the paired ships, they brought the vessels close inshore and tried to set the engine against the wall.

At the top of the ladder there was a platform protected on three sides by wicker shields, on which four men stood and fought against those on the battlements who tried to prevent the sambuca from being set in place.

Once they had planted it and stood above the level of the wall, these men unfastened the side shields on either hand and stepped out onto the battlements or towers.

The rest followed them up the sambuca, since the ladder was firmly secured by ropes to both ships.

The device naturally got this name, because when it is raised the combined shape of ship and ladder looks very much like the musical instrument called a sambuca.

Chapter 5 Syracuse's Defenses

Yet while the Romans were preparing to bring their machines up against the towers in this way, Archimedes, having readied engines for every possible range, struck at the ships while they were still far off with his stronger stone-throwers and larger missiles, and threw them into confusion and helplessness.

And when these shots began to pass over them, he switched to smaller engines proportioned to the distance at hand, and by constantly adapting his fire to the range so completely checked their advance and attack that Marcus, driven to despair, was forced to try bringing up his ships secretly by night.

But when they came within bowshot close to land, Archimedes had prepared yet another device against the men fighting from the decks.

He had pierced the wall on the outer face, at the height of a man, with numerous loopholes about the size of a palm; and inside the wall he stationed archers and small scorpions, shooting through these openings and making the marines useless.

Thus he not only rendered the enemy ineffective both at a distance and close at hand, but destroyed a great number of them besides.

And whenever they tried to raise the sambucae, he had prepared engines all along the wall, invisible at ordinary times, but at the needed moment rising from within above the wall and projecting far out over the battlements with their beams.

Some of these carried stones weighing no less than ten talents, and others great lumps of lead.

Then, when the sambucae came near, the beams were swung into position by their pivoting apparatus and, through a release mechanism, let fall the stone upon the machine.

The result was that not only was the engine itself smashed to pieces, but the ship and those aboard it were put in extreme danger.

Chapter 6 Siege of Syracuse

He also used other machines against those who advanced and sheltered themselves behind projecting screens, believing that in this way they would suffer nothing from missiles shot through the wall. Against these men he hurled stones heavy enough to drive the fighters from the prow, and he also let

down an iron hand hanging from a chain. The man handling the beam seized whatever part of the prow he could grasp and then drew the butt of the engine down inside the wall.

When he had thus lifted the prow and made the ship stand upright on its stern, he fixed the machine fast and then, by means of a release, suddenly let go the hand and chain.

As a result some ships fell over sideways, some even capsized, and most, with their prows dropped from on high, shipped great quantities of seawater and were thrown into complete confusion.

Marcus, hard pressed by the contrivances of Archimedes and seeing the defenders within beat off his assaults, to his own loss and mockery, bore the situation badly, though he mocked his own failure by saying that Archimedes was using his ships as ladles to dip water out of the sea, and that the sambucae had been soundly whipped and disgracefully turned away from the feast.

Such was the end of the siege by sea.

Chapter 7 Archimedes

The men under Appius met with similar difficulties and gave up the attack.

For while they were still at a distance they were battered and destroyed by the stone-throwers and catapults, the missiles being extraordinary both in number and in force, since Hiero had supplied the resources and Archimedes had devised and engineered the machines.

And when they approached the city, some were kept from advancing by the archers shooting through the wall, as I said before, while others who pressed on under screens were crushed by the blows of stones and beams falling from above.

They also suffered no little harm from the grappling hands of the machines, as I said earlier; for the men were lifted up with their armor and hurled down.

In the end Appius and his officers withdrew to camp and, after consulting with the military tribunes, unanimously resolved to try every possible means of taking Syracuse except storming it—and that is what they did.

For though they sat before the city for eight months and did not shrink from any other stratagem or bold effort, they never again dared to attempt a direct assault.

So true it is that one man and one mind properly adapted to a particular situation can prove to be a thing of immense and astonishing power.

Those men at least, though they possessed such large forces by land and sea, believed that if one old Syracusan were removed they would at once become masters of the city, but so long as he was there they did not even dare to attack it in any way against which Archimedes was able to defend it.

Instead, they thought that the people inside would most likely be brought under their power by want of necessities, because of the great number crowded within; and so they pinned their hopes on this, cutting off aid by sea with their fleet and by land with their army.

Yet, not wishing to let the time spent sitting before Syracuse be useless, the generals divided themselves and the army, so that Appius with two parts remained before the city, while Marcus, taking the third, went out against those in Sicily who had sided with the Carthaginians.

Chapter 8 Other Inventions of Archimedes

Philip, when he arrived in Messenia, ravaged the country in a hostile spirit, acting more from anger than from reason.

For, so it seems to me, he imagined that by continually injuring men he would somehow never provoke indignation or hatred among those he was wronging.

I was led, both here and in the previous book, to speak more plainly about these matters, not only for the reasons already given before, but also because some historians have altogether passed over Philip's treatment of the Messenians, while others, through favor toward kings or through fear, have represented Philip's impiety and lawlessness toward the Messenians not merely as no fault at all, but as something praiseworthy and successful.

Nor is it only in the case of the Messenians that writers on Philip's deeds can be seen doing this, but in other matters as well.

Hence their compositions turn out not to have the character of history at all, but rather of panegyric.

For my own part, I say that one ought neither falsely to abuse monarchs nor falsely to praise them, as many have done; one should always fit one's account to what has already been set down and to the actual character and purpose of each person.

Perhaps that is easy to say but very difficult to do, because human situations and pressures are many and varied, and men yielding to them in life often cannot say or write what truly appears to them.

For that reason some deserve pardon—but not all.

Chapter 8a Demetrius Killed at Messene

[...] Demetrius, after rashly and recklessly attempting, with Philip's approval, to seize the city of the Messenians, was killed in the very crisis of the action. We shall explain the details of this matter when we come to the proper point in the narrative.

Chapter 9 The Assault By Land Repulsed

In this respect one might especially find fault with Theopompus. At the beginning of his history of Philip he says that what chiefly moved him to undertake the work was that Europe had never produced such a man as Philip son of Amyntas.

Yet immediately afterward, both in the preface and throughout the whole history, he represents him as utterly uncontrolled in his dealings with women, so much so that he says Philip ruined his own household by his passion and favor in this regard, as profoundly unjust and treacherous in his treatment of friends and allies, as having enslaved many cities and seized them by fraud and violence, and as so given over to drunkenness that he was repeatedly seen drunk in broad daylight by his friends.

And if anyone cares to read the beginning of his forty-ninth book, he will be utterly astonished at the extravagance of the historian, who among other things has ventured to say the following. I quote his very words:

“If there was among Greeks or barbarians any man who was debauched or shameless in character, all such men flocked to Macedonia and were called the king’s companions of Philip.

For Philip in general disapproved of those whose conduct was orderly and who took care of their private lives, but honored and promoted those who lived extravagantly in drunkenness and dice.

Therefore he not only encouraged them in such practices, but made them athletes in every kind of injustice and foulness. For what shameful or dreadful thing did they not possess?

Or what honorable and noble quality did they not lack? Some of them, though men, went about shaved and smoothed; others, though bearded, dared to abuse one another.

They dragged about with them two or three catamites, and themselves in turn rendered the same services to others.

So one would rightly think of them not as companions but as courtesans, and call them not soldiers but common prostitutes.

For though man-slayers by nature, they were male prostitutes in their habits.

In short, to stop my long-windedness, especially when so many matters press upon me, I think that the so-called friends and companions of Philip were such beasts in nature and conduct that not even the Centaurs on Pelion nor the Laestrygonians in the Leontine plain were anything like them.”

Chapter 10 Philip Devastates Messene

Who would not reject such bitterness and such reckless abuse on the part of a historian?

For he deserves censure not only because he says things inconsistent with his own purpose, but also because he has slandered both the king and his friends, and most of all because he has framed the

slander in language at once disgraceful and indecent.

If he had been speaking about Sardanapalus or his circle, he would scarcely have dared to use language so foul—and the kind of life and wantonness that man pursued we infer from the inscription on his tomb.

For the inscription says:

These are the things I possess: what I ate, what insolence I indulged in, and the pleasures I enjoyed in love.

But when speaking of Philip and his friends, one should be on guard not against accusing them of softness and cowardice, or even shamelessness, but rather lest, in trying to praise them, one should fail to speak worthily of their courage, hardiness, and, in a word, their excellence.

For it was plainly by their own hard work and daring that they turned the Macedonian kingdom from a very small one into the most renowned and greatest power of its day.

And quite apart from Philip's own achievements, what they accomplished after his death under Alexander has handed down to all men a reputation for excellence that is universally acknowledged.

A large share of the credit must perhaps be assigned to Alexander, who stood at the head of everything, though he was still very young; yet no less belongs to his helpers and friends, who won many astonishing battles over their enemies, endured many severe labors, dangers, and hardships, and though they came into possession of immense wealth and every opportunity for indulgence, never by that means weakened their bodily strength or gave themselves to any unjust or licentious course.

In a word, all who lived with Philip and then with Alexander proved truly royal in greatness of soul, self-restraint, and daring. There is no need to list them by name.

And after Alexander's death, when they contended over the greater part of the inhabited world, they left their fame recorded in many histories.

Thus the bitterness with which Timaeus attacks Agathocles, ruler of Sicily, though it seems excessive, is still intelligible—for he is accusing an enemy, a wicked man, and a tyrant—but the invective of Theopompus does not even admit of rational defense.

Chapter 11 Criticism Of Theopompus

For after proposing to write about a king exceptionally endowed by nature for virtue, he omits none of the shameful or dreadful charges he can find.

The result is that the historian must necessarily appear either a liar and flatterer in his opening and statement of purpose, or else childish and foolish in his treatment of particulars, if he thought that by

irrational and borrowed abuse he would make himself seem more credible and his praises of Philip more acceptable.

Nor indeed would anyone approve even the broad design of this writer, since he set out to write Greek history from the point at which Thucydides ended, and when he had drawn near to the age of Leuctra and to the most brilliant achievements of Greece, he threw Greece and its deeds aside and instead proposed to write the acts of Philip.

Yet it would have been far nobler and fairer to include Philip's actions within a history of Greece than to include the affairs of Greece within a history of Philip.

For no one, once preoccupied with the grandeur of Greek history and having advanced some distance in it, would voluntarily exchange that subject for the role and life of a monarch; whereas no one already occupied with a royal court, given the opportunity, would have hesitated to make a timely change to the name and dignity of Greece.

So what was it that forced Theopompus to overlook contradictions of this scale? Surely only this: that the aim of the first subject was what was honorable, but the aim of the subject centered on Philip was what was advantageous.

About the error itself—his change of subject—he might perhaps have had something to say if one questioned him.

But about the shameful abuse directed against Philip's friends, I do not think he could have given any account at all, except to admit that he had strayed very far from what was fitting.

Chapter 12 Philip, Alexander, And the Diadochi

Philip, though he regarded the Messenians as enemies and set himself to ravage their land, was unable to inflict any damage worth mentioning on them; but against his most intimate friends he displayed the grossest misconduct.

For when the elder Aratus showed displeasure at what Philip had done at Messene, the king not long afterward, through Taurion who managed his affairs in the Peloponnese, had him taken off by poison.

At the time the deed was not recognized by outsiders; for the drug was not one of those that kill on the spot, but one that worked over time and produced a wasting condition.

Aratus himself, however, was not ignorant of the evil done to him. This became clear from what follows.

Concealing it from everyone else, he nevertheless could not keep silence with one of his attendants, Cephalon, because of their familiarity. When this man was carefully attending him in his illness and once noticed some spittle by the wall that was bloody, Aratus said, "So, Cephalon, this is the reward we have received for our friendship with Philip."

Such a great and noble thing is moderation, that the sufferer was more ashamed of what had happened than the man who committed the crime—ashamed that after sharing in so many and such great deeds for Philip's advantage he had received this return for his goodwill.

And since Aratus had often held the chief office among the Achaeans, and because of the number and greatness of the benefits he had conferred upon the nation, when he died he received fitting honor both from his own city and from the Achaean League as a whole.

For they voted him sacrifices and heroic honors, and in general everything that contributes to eternal remembrance; so that, if there is any awareness among the dead, it is reasonable to suppose that he looks with approval both on the gratitude of the Achaeans and on the hardships and dangers he endured during his life.

Chapter 13 Flawed Structure of Theopompus's History

Philip had long had his mind fixed on Lissus and Acrolissus and was eager to gain possession of those places, so he set out with his army.

After marching for two days and passing through the narrow defiles, he encamped by the river Ardaxanus, not far from the city.

But when he surveyed the circuit of Lissus and saw how strongly it was secured both toward the sea and inland, by nature as well as by construction, and when he also saw nearby Acrolissus, which because of its height and general strength looked like a place no one could even hope to carry by force, he entirely gave up hope of taking the citadel, though he did not wholly despair of the city itself.

Observing that the space between Lissus and the foot of Acrolissus was suitable for an assault on the town, he decided to create a skirmish there and use a stratagem adapted to the situation.

After giving the Macedonians a day of rest and addressing to them during it the words appropriate to the moment, he hid the greater and more useful part of his light troops by night in some wooded ravines on the inland side above the space just mentioned, while on the following day he himself, taking the peltasts and the rest of the light-armed troops, marched around to the other side of the city by the sea.

When he had gone round the city and reached the appointed place, he made it plain that he meant to begin the ascent and attack there.

Philip's presence had not gone unnoticed, and accordingly a sufficient crowd from all the surrounding parts of Illyria had gathered into Lissus.

For because they trusted in the strength of Acrolissus, they had assigned only a moderate guard to it.

Chapter 14 Aratus Poisoned

So when the Macedonians drew near, the defenders immediately poured out of the city, confident in their numbers and in the strength of the ground.

The king stationed his peltasts on the level ground, and ordered the light troops to advance toward the hills and engage the enemy vigorously. When this order was carried out, the struggle remained equal for a time; but afterward Philip's men, giving way both to the rough terrain and to the enemy's greater numbers, were driven back.

When these men fled for refuge to the peltasts, those who had come out from the city pushed forward contemptuously, descended to the level ground, and joined battle with the peltasts.

But the men guarding Acrolissus, seeing Philip gradually drawing back his companies in succession and thinking that he was retreating altogether, were lured from their post by their confidence in the natural strength of the place.

Little by little they abandoned Acrolissus and came streaming down by the slopes into the level ground, expecting already some gain and a complete rout of the enemy.

At that very moment the troops hidden in ambush on the inland side rose unseen and charged in earnest; and at the same time the peltasts turned and attacked the enemy afresh.

The men from Lissus were thrown into confusion and, retreating in disorder, made their way back to the city; but those who had left Acrolissus were cut off by the men who sprang from the ambush.

Thus the unexpected happened: Acrolissus was taken at once and without danger, and Lissus on the following day, after severe fighting, when the Macedonians pressed the attack with energy and terror.

Philip, having thus in a wholly unexpected way made himself master of these positions, brought all the neighboring peoples into subjection by this exploit, so that most of the Illyrians voluntarily surrendered their cities to him.

For after such fortresses had been taken by force, no stronghold or security any longer seemed sufficient against Philip's power.

Chapter 14b Dassaretae and Hyscana in Illyria

The Dassaretae are a people of Illyria.

The city Hyscana is a city of Illyria.

Chapter 15 Philip Takes Lissus in Illyria, 213 BC

Bolis was a Cretan by birth who had spent a long time at the royal court in a position of command, and he was thought to possess intelligence, reckless courage, and practical experience in warfare inferior to no one.

Sosibius won this man's confidence by many arguments, made him loyal and eager for his cause, and then entrusted the enterprise to him, saying that at the present juncture he could render the king no greater service than by devising some means and method to save Achaeus.

Bolis listened for the moment and said he would consider what had been proposed, then withdrew.

But after reflecting on the matter, he came back to Sosibius two or three days later and undertook the business, saying that he had spent considerable time at Sardis and knew the ground, and that Cambylus, commander of the Cretans serving under Antiochus, was not only a fellow citizen of his but also a kinsman and friend.

It also happened that Cambylus and the Cretans under him had charge of one of the guard-posts on the rear side of the citadel, a place not open to siege-works but held secure by the continuous presence of Cambylus' men.

When Sosibius heard this plan, he concluded that either Achaeus could not possibly be saved from the situation around him, or, if there was any possible way, none would be better than Bolis. Since Bolis too showed such eagerness for the business, the matter at once began to move forward quickly.

Sosibius provided money in advance so that nothing would be lacking for the attempt, and promised much more if all went well.

By enlarging on the gratitude that would come both from the king himself and from Achaeus if he were saved, he raised Bolis to high hopes.

And Bolis, being ready for the task, waited no time but sailed off at once, taking tokens and pledges addressed to Nicomachus at Rhodes, who was believed to feel toward Achaeus with a father's loyalty and goodwill, and likewise to Melancomas at Ephesus.

For these were the men through whom Achaeus had previously managed both his dealings with Ptolemy and all his other outside negotiations.

Chapter 16 Philip V. In Illyria

When Bolis arrived at Rhodes and then afterward at Ephesus, and had shared the matter with the men just mentioned and found them ready for what he asked, he next sent a man named Arianus, one of those under his command, to Cambylus.

The message was that he had been sent out from Alexandria to recruit mercenaries, but wished to meet Cambylus about certain urgent matters; he therefore thought it necessary that they appoint a time and place where they could confer without anyone else knowing.

Arianus quickly met Cambylus and delivered the message. Cambylus readily agreed, appointed a day and a place known to both of them where he would be present by night, and sent Arianus away.

Bolis, being a Cretan and naturally full of cunning, weighed every possibility and examined every idea.

At last, meeting Cambylus according to Arianus' arrangement, he handed over the letter, and when it was laid before them they considered the matter in true Cretan fashion.

For they did not deliberate about the safety of the man in danger, nor about the trust reposed in them by those who had given them the task, but only about their own security and profit.

Thus, being both Cretans, they quickly came to the same decision: first, to divide between themselves the ten talents advanced by Sosibius, and second, after informing Antiochus of the whole plan and making him their partner, to promise that they would hand Achaeus over to him, provided they received money and future rewards worthy of so great an enterprise.

After this agreement had been settled, Cambylus undertook the dealings with Antiochus, while Bolis arranged that after some days Arianus should be sent to Achaeus carrying ciphered letters from Nicomachus and Melancomas.

Cambylus was to consider how Arianus could safely get into the citadel and back out again.

If Achaeus accepted the plan and sent an answering message to Nicomachus and Melancomas, Bolis said that he himself would then place his services at their disposal and meet Cambylus again.

Once these arrangements had been made, they parted and each carried out what had been assigned.

Chapter 17 Bolis the Cretan Agrees to Rescue Achaeus

At the first opportunity Cambylus brought the proposal before the king.

Antiochus found the offer both agreeable and astonishing. Partly overjoyed, he promised everything; partly distrustful, he examined in detail the several plans and preparations.

Afterward, when he had become convinced and thought that the undertaking seemed to be advancing with divine favor, he urgently begged Cambylus again and again to carry it through.

Bolis acted in a similar way toward Nicomachus and Melancomas. Believing that the attempt rested on the strongest assurances, they at once prepared letters to Achaeus written in cipher, as was their custom, in such a way that anyone who got hold of the letter would be unable to understand any of what was written in it; and they sent them, urging him to trust Bolis and Cambylus.

Arianus, by means of Cambylus, entered the citadel and delivered what had been written to Achaeus and his circle. Since he had been present from the start, he gave an exact account of every particular, even under repeated and varied questioning about Sosibius and Bolis, about Nicomachus and Melancomas, and most of all about Cambylus.

Yet he endured the examination with natural confidence and resolution, chiefly because he did not know the essential point of the scheme that Bolis and Cambylus had actually agreed upon.

Achaeus, convinced both by Arianus' answers and especially by the ciphers sent from Nicomachus and Melancomas, replied and immediately sent Arianus back again.

After this had happened several times between the two sides, Achaeus and his friends at last entrusted themselves to Nicomachus' group, since absolutely no other hope of safety remained, and told them to send Bolis along with Arianus on a moonless night, as they were prepared to place themselves in their hands.

For Achaeus had formed a plan somewhat like this: first to escape the danger immediately around him, and afterward to make his move toward Syria without any advance warning.

He had great hopes that if he appeared suddenly and unexpectedly among the people of Syria while Antiochus was still occupied around Sardis, he would stir up a great movement and receive a warm welcome from the people of Antioch, Coele-Syria, and Phoenicia.

Chapter 18 Bolis Turns Traitor

So Achaeus, with expectations and calculations of this kind, awaited the arrival of Bolis.

Meanwhile Melancomas and the others, after receiving Arianus and reading the letters, sent Bolis off, encouraging him at length and setting before him great hopes if he should bring the attempt to completion.

Bolis first sent Arianus ahead to notify Cambylus of his arrival, and then himself came by night to the appointed place.

After the two had spent a day together and arranged the details of how each part should be handled, they entered the camp by night.

Their plan had been formed in this way: if Achaeus should come out of the citadel alone, or only with Bolis and Arianus or one other man, he would be easy to despise and still easier for the men in ambush to seize.

But if he came with several companions, the task would be difficult for those entrusted with it—especially since they were eager to capture him alive, because the greatest part of the favor they expected from Antiochus depended on that.

Therefore Arianus, when leading Achaeus out, was to go in front because he knew the path, having often gone in and out that way.

Bolis was to follow behind the others, so that when they reached the place where, through Cambylus, the ambush was supposed to be ready, he might lay hold of Achaeus and make sure that in the confusion of the night and among wooded ground he neither escaped nor, in desperation, threw himself down a cliff, but instead fell alive into the enemy's hands according to their design.

After these arrangements had been agreed upon, Cambylus, on the very night Bolis arrived, brought him before Antiochus, the two of them alone.

The king received him graciously, gave pledges for the promised rewards, and urged both men at length to delay no further over the matter before them. Then they returned to their own camp, and toward dawn Bolis went up with Arianus and entered the citadel while it was still night.

Chapter 19 Antiochus Approves the Plan

Achaeus received Bolis with marked warmth and friendliness and questioned him at length on every detail.

Judging from both his appearance and his conversation that the man had the steadiness needed for such an undertaking, he was at one moment full of joy because of the hope of safety, and at another terrified and full of anxiety because of the greatness of what hung in the balance.

Yet though he was second to no one in intelligence and quite experienced in practical affairs, he still decided that he ought not to suspend all trust entirely upon Bolis.

So he told him that for the moment it was impossible for him to come out himself, but that he would send three or four of his friends with him, and once these had met Melancomas and his people, he would make himself ready for departure.

Thus Achaeus did what he could; but he did not realize that, as the saying goes, he was trying to out-Cretan a Cretan. For Bolis had left no possible contrivance in this matter unexplored.

When the night came on which Achaeus had said he would send his friends with them, he first sent Arianus and Bolis to wait at the exit of the citadel until those who were to go out with them should arrive.

They obeyed. Achaeus then, at the very moment, communicated the plan to his wife, and Laodice, because of the suddenness of it, was beside herself. So for some time he stayed with her, pleading with her, calming her, and strengthening her with the hopes he expected from the venture.

After this he himself set out as the fifth in the party, having given ordinary clothes to the others while he himself took a plain chance garment and made his appearance as humble as possible.

He instructed one of his friends always to answer whatever Arianus and his companions said, and to keep asking them what was urgent; as for the rest, he was to say they were barbarians.

Chapter 20 The Final Arrangements are Made

When they joined Arianus and his party, Arianus led the way because of his knowledge of the path, while Bolis followed behind in accordance with the original plan, uneasy and perplexed by what was

happening.

For though he was a Cretan and ready to suspect anything against his neighbor, the darkness was such that he could not make out Achaeus—not who he was, or even whether he was present at all.

The descent for the most part was steep and difficult, and in some places the path was especially dangerous and treacherous. Whenever they came to one of these places, some took hold of Achaeus while others received him below, and because they could not entirely suppress the habitual marks of respect they were accustomed to show him, Bolis quickly understood who and which of them Achaeus was.

When they reached the place assigned to Cambylus, Bolis gave the agreed signal by a whistle. Then the men rose from the ambush and seized the others, while Bolis himself grabbed Achaeus along with his cloak, his hands being inside it, because he feared that once Achaeus understood what was happening he might try to kill himself; for he had provided himself with a dagger.

Quickly surrounded on all sides, he fell under the power of his enemies, and at once he and his friends were led up to Antiochus.

The king, who had long been on edge in expectation of what would happen, had dismissed those who had been with him and remained awake alone in his tent with two or three bodyguards.

When Cambylus and his party entered and set Achaeus on the ground before him in bonds, Antiochus was so overcome by the unexpectedness of it that he remained speechless for a long time, and at last felt pity and burst into tears.

This happened to him, I think, because he saw how hard to guard against and how irrational are the things that come from Fortune.

For Achaeus was the son of Andromachus, brother of Laodice the wife of Seleucus, and he had married Laodice, daughter of King Mithridates, and had become master of all the country on this side of Taurus.

And yet, while he was believed, both because of his own power and because of his enemies' circumstances, to be dwelling in one of the strongest positions in the inhabited world, he was sitting bound on the ground, in the power of his enemies, before absolutely anyone knew what had happened except the men who had done it.

Chapter 21 Achaeus Takes Precautions

At daybreak, when the king's friends gathered at the tent as usual and the matter came before their eyes, the same thing happened to them as to the king: astonished at what they saw, they could hardly believe it.

When the council sat, many proposals were made as to what punishments should be inflicted on Achaeus.

It was resolved first to mutilate the wretched man, then to cut off his head, sew it into an ass's skin, and impale the body.

When this had been done and the army learned what had happened, such excitement and tumult seized the whole camp that Laodice in the citadel—who alone knew of her husband's departure—guessed what had happened from the disturbance and movement among the troops.

Soon a herald came to Laodice, explained what had happened to Achaeus, and ordered her to lay down authority and surrender the citadel.

At first inarticulate cries and dreadful lamentations possessed the people in the acropolis—not so much from affection for Achaeus as because what had happened seemed to every one utterly extraordinary and wholly beyond expectation.

After this came great uncertainty and confusion among those inside.

Antiochus, having disposed of Achaeus, kept constant pressure on the citadel, persuaded that some opening would be handed to him by the men inside, and especially by the soldiers.

And that is what happened in the end. They quarreled among themselves and split into factions, some joining Aribazus and others Laodice. Once this had happened and the two sides distrusted one another, both quickly surrendered themselves and the citadels.

So Achaeus, after doing everything that reason could suggest, was nevertheless overcome by the faithlessness of those whom he trusted and ended his life, becoming a useful example to posterity in two ways: first, not to trust anyone lightly; and second, not to grow boastful in prosperity, but, being human, to expect everything.

Chapter 22 Capture of Achaeus

Cauarus, king of the Gauls in Thrace, was by nature a truly royal and high-minded man, and he provided great security for the merchants who sailed into the Black Sea, and rendered important services to the Byzantines in their wars against the Thracians and the Bithynians.

Yet this Cauarus the Gaul, though otherwise an excellent man, was corrupted by a flatterer named Sostratus, a native of Chalcedon.

Chapter 23 Antiochus In Armenia

When Xerxes was ruling from the city of Armosata, which lies on the so-called Fair Plain between the Euphrates and the Tigris, King Antiochus encamped before the city and set about besieging it.

Xerxes, seeing the king's preparations, first removed himself from danger; but after some time, fearing that if the royal residence were taken by the enemy the rest of his dominion would also be thrown into confusion, he changed his mind and sent to Antiochus saying that he wished to come to terms.

The loyal among Antiochus' friends said that once they had the young man in their hands they ought not to let him go, but advised the king, after taking the city, to hand the principality over to Mithridates, who was his sister's son by birth.

But the king paid no attention to any of this. Instead he summoned the young man, ended the hostility, and remitted most of the money that the father's unpaid tribute still owed him.

Receiving at once from Xerxes three hundred talents, a thousand horses, and a thousand mules with their equipment, he restored everything in the kingdom, gave him in marriage his sister Antiochis, and by acting in so magnanimous and kingly a fashion won over and attracted all the people of that region.

Chapter 24 Tarentine Conspirators Approach Hannibal

The Tarentines, in the arrogance bred by prosperity, invited Pyrrhus the Epirote. For every freedom that has enjoyed unchecked license for a long time naturally grows weary of what lies before it and then looks for a master; yet when it gets one, it quickly hates him again, because the change for the worse appears so great. And this is exactly what happened to the Tarentines then.

Whatever is still in the future always seems better than what is present.

When these troubles fell upon Tarentum and Thurii, the mass of the people grew indignant.

At first the conspirators set out from the city under the pretext of a raid, and when they came near Hannibal's camp by night, the others sat down and waited in a wooded place by the road, while Philemenus and Nicon went on to the camp.

The guards seized them and brought them before Hannibal. They said nothing about who they were or where they came from, only that they wished to meet the general.

Brought quickly to Hannibal, they said they wanted to speak with him privately.

He readily granted the interview, and they explained both their own situation and the state of their country, bringing many and varied charges against the Romans, so as not to seem to be entering into the proposed undertaking without cause.

Hannibal for the moment praised them, received their zeal kindly, and sent them away with instructions to come back and meet him again as soon as possible.

For the present, he ordered that when the first cattle driven out to pasture in the morning had gone a sufficient distance from the camp, they should boldly surround them and make off with both the animals and the herdsmen; he himself would see to their safety.

He did this because he wanted time to investigate the young men's story for himself, and at the same time to provide them with credibility among their fellow citizens, as though their expeditions outside the city really were for plundering.

When Nicon and his companions did as they had been instructed, Hannibal was delighted because he had at last obtained an opening for the enterprise he had in mind, and Philemenus' party were even more stirred to action because the interview had taken place safely, Hannibal had been found eager, and the richness of the spoil had given them strong credibility among their own people.

For by selling some of the booty and feasting on some of it, they not only won the confidence of the Tarentines but also gained many imitators.

Chapter 25 Antiochus the Great at Armosata

After this they made a second expedition, handled matters in much the same way, and exchanged mutual pledges of good faith with Hannibal.

The agreement was that the Carthaginians would set the Tarentines free and would neither exact tribute from them in any form nor impose any other burden upon them; but once they had taken the city, the houses and lodgings occupied by Romans were to be open to the Carthaginians for plunder.

They also arranged upon a signal so that, whenever they came, the guards would promptly admit them into the camp.

Once this had been done, they were able to meet Hannibal repeatedly, sometimes going out of the city as though on a raid, at other times as though for hunting.

After putting these matters in order for the future, most of the conspirators watched for the proper opportunities, while they assigned Philemenus to manage the hunting expeditions.

For because of his excessive eagerness for the sport, he had the reputation of considering nothing in life more important than hunting.

So they entrusted it to him to win over first Gaius Livius, the officer set over the city, and then the men guarding the tower by the gate called the Temenid Gates, by means of the animals he brought in.

Having undertaken this task, partly by his own hunting and partly with game supplied to him through Hannibal, he continually brought animals in, giving some to Gaius and some to the men at the gate, so that they would open the wicket to him readily.

For he usually made his entrances and exits by night, pretending to fear the enemy, though in fact he was fitting his conduct to the design they had in hand.

When this habit of Philemenus with the gate guards had become so established that they no longer hesitated, but whenever he came near the wall and whistled by night the wicket was immediately

opened for him, they then watched for a day on which the Roman commander in the city was expected to spend the whole day with a large company in the place called the Museum near the marketplace, and fixed that day with Hannibal.

Chapter 26 The Hannibalian War — Tarentum

Hannibal had long since provided himself with the excuse of being ill, so that the Romans would not be surprised to hear that he remained for a considerable time in the same place.

At this moment he pretended illness even more strongly. His camp was three days' march from Tarentum.

When the proper time came, he selected from both cavalry and infantry those most distinguished for mobility and daring, about ten thousand in number, and ordered them to carry provisions for four days.

Then, making his camp break up just before dawn, he marched on at speed. He also chose about eighty Numidian horsemen and ordered them to ride thirty stades ahead of the army and scour the country on both sides of the road, so that no one would catch sight of the main force, but anyone they encountered would either fall into their hands, or, if he escaped, would report in the city only that there was a raid by Numidians.

After the Numidians had advanced about one hundred and twenty stades, Hannibal took supper by a river that was hard to overlook and ran through ravines.

He assembled his officers and did not fully disclose the enterprise, but in general terms encouraged them, first, to show themselves brave men, since never before had greater prizes been set before them; second, that each officer should keep the men under him together on the march and sternly rebuke any who left their own ranks; and finally, that they should pay attention to the orders given and do nothing on their own initiative beyond what was commanded.

After speaking thus and dismissing the officers, he set the advance in motion just as darkness fell, eager to reach the wall around midnight, with Philemenus as guide, and having made ready for him a wild boar for the part he had to play.

Chapter 27 A Bargain Made with Hannibal

Gaius Livius, just as the young men had anticipated, spent the day with his usual companions in the Museum, and when the drinking was already at its height, toward sunset a report was brought that the Numidians were ravaging the countryside.

He concerned himself only with that, and after summoning some of his officers ordered half the cavalry to ride out before dawn and stop the enemy from plundering the land. This made him even less

suspicious of the whole affair.

Nicon, Tragiscus, and the rest gathered together in the city at nightfall and waited for the return of Livius and his party.

Since they rose quickly from the banquet because it had begun early, the main body of the conspirators withdrew to a certain place and stayed there; but some of the young men met Gaius and his companions, in a loose disorderly group, joking among themselves as though they too were returning from a drinking party.

As Livius and his people were made even more unsteady by wine, laughter and playfulness sprang up on both sides the moment they met.

When they had escorted him home, Gaius went to his rest in a drunken state, as is natural for men who begin drinking in daylight, with no uneasy suspicion in his mind but full of cheerfulness and slack ease.

Nicon and Tragiscus then rejoined the young men they had left behind and, dividing themselves into three groups, watched the most favorable approaches to the marketplace, so that nothing happening either outside the walls or in the city itself would escape them.

They also took up position near the house of Gaius, knowing perfectly well that if any suspicion arose of what was coming, the first warning would be carried to Livius and that all countermeasures would begin from him.

When the return from the dinners and, in general, that sort of noise had now passed away, and the mass of the townspeople had fallen asleep, and the night was advancing while their hopes remained unshaken, they gathered together and moved forward to execute the plan.

Chapter 28 Tarentum Betrayed To Hannibal

The agreement between the young men and the Carthaginians was as follows.

Hannibal, approaching the city from the inland side on its eastern face near the so-called Temenid Gates, was to light a fire on the tomb which some called the tomb of Hyacinthus and others the tomb of Apollo Hyacinthus.

Then Tragiscus and his companions, when they saw this, were to answer with a fire from inside.

Once that signal had been completed, Hannibal's men were to extinguish their fire and advance slowly toward the gate.

With this arrangement settled, the young men passed through the inhabited quarter of the city and came to the tombs.

For the eastern side of Tarentum is full of tombs, because the Tarentines even now bury all their dead within the walls in obedience to an ancient oracle.

The god, they say, declared to them that it would be better and more profitable for them to dwell with the greater number.

Thinking that they would best obey the oracle if even their dead remained within the walls, they therefore still bury the departed inside the gates.

So the men already mentioned, after coming to the tomb of Pythionicus, waited to see what would happen.

When Hannibal and his party drew near and did what had been arranged, Nicon and Tragiscus took heart, displayed their own answering beacon, and when they saw the Carthaginians' fire again being put out, rushed at speed toward the gate, wishing to get there first and kill the men stationed in the gate-tower, since it had been agreed that the Carthaginians should make their advance slowly and at a walk.

Everything went smoothly: the guards were caught before they were ready, some of the young men killed them, and others cut the bars.

The gates were quickly opened, and Hannibal's party arrived at exactly the right moment, having timed their march so well that they never once had to halt on the road to the city.

Chapter 29 Gaius Livius Has a Party

Once the entrance had been safely made as planned and without any disturbance at all, the Carthaginians, thinking that the greater part of the enterprise was already accomplished, now advanced boldly toward the marketplace by the broad street that rises from the district called the Deep Road.

The cavalry, however, numbering not fewer than two thousand, they left outside the walls, wishing to keep this force in reserve against any appearance from outside or against the unexpected turns that commonly arise in such undertakings.

When they came near the marketplace, they halted the force in marching order, while they themselves waited for Philemenus, anxious to see how this part too of their enterprise would succeed.

For when they had lit the fire and were about to move toward the gate, they had also sent off Philemenus, carrying the boar on a litter and accompanied by about a thousand Libyans, toward the neighboring gate, not wishing, as from the beginning, to hang the whole enterprise upon a single hope, but upon several.

Philemenus, when he came to the wall and gave his accustomed whistle, was immediately met by the guard coming down to the wicket.

When he called from outside to open quickly because they were carrying a heavy load, namely a wild boar, the guard gladly and hurriedly opened, hoping that some share of this successful hunt would also come to him, since he had always received a portion of what Philemenus brought in.

Philemenus himself, carrying the front end of the litter, entered first; with him came another man dressed as a Numidian, as though he were one of the country people, and after him came two more carrying the beast from behind.

When all four were inside the wicket, they struck down and killed the man who had opened it, as he harmlessly looked over and felt the boar, and then quietly let in through the little gate the Libyans following close behind them, about thirty in number.

Once this had been done, some were engaged in cutting the bars, others in killing the men on the tower, and others in summoning the Libyans outside by means of agreed signals.

When these too had entered safely, they advanced toward the marketplace according to the arrangement.

And when this force as well joined him, Hannibal, delighted that the business was proceeding exactly as he wished, pressed on with the plan he had set before himself.

Chapter 30 Hannibal Enters Tarentum

He selected about two thousand Gauls, divided them into three bodies, and assigned to each body two of the young men who had managed the plot.

He also sent some of his own officers with them, ordering them to occupy the most favorable points along the roads leading into the marketplace.

When they had done this, he ordered the local young men to single out and spare any Tarentine citizens they encountered, crying from a distance that Tarentines should stay where they were, since they were safe.

But to the Carthaginian and Gallic officers he gave orders to kill any Romans they met. With that, they split up and carried out what had been commanded.

As the enemy's entry now became plain to the Tarentines, the city filled with shouting and confusion of every kind.

Gaius, when the enemy's entrance suddenly came upon him, realized that in his drunken state he was incapable of action. He at once rushed out of the house with his servants, came to the gate leading to the harbor, and after the guard had opened the wicket for him, slipped through and, seizing one of the little boats at anchor, was conveyed with his servants to the citadel.

At this same moment Philemenus and his people, having prepared Roman trumpets and some men able to sound them from familiarity with their use, stood in the theater and gave the signal.

The Romans, responding in arms by force of habit to the trumpet-call and hurrying toward the citadel, made the affair turn out exactly as the Carthaginians intended.

For as they came through the streets scattered and without formation, some ran into the Carthaginians and others into the Gauls, and by being cut down in this manner in separate groups, a very great number perished.

At daybreak the Tarentines stayed quietly in their houses, still unable to make sense of what was happening.

For because of the trumpet and because no outrage or plundering was taking place in the city, they thought the disturbance had arisen from the Romans themselves.

But the sight of many Romans lying dead in the streets, together with some Gauls visibly stripping the bodies, brought to mind the presence of the Carthaginians.

Chapter 31 Philemenus and his Retinue Get In Too

By now Hannibal had drawn up his forces in the marketplace, and the Romans had withdrawn into the citadel, since they had long since secured it with a garrison. As the daylight became clear, Hannibal proclaimed that all Tarentines were to assemble in the marketplace without arms, while the young conspirators went around the city crying out for freedom and urging the people to take courage, since the Carthaginians had come on their behalf.

Those Tarentines who had remained attached to the Romans understood the situation and withdrew into the citadel; but the rest obeyed the proclamation and gathered without arms, and to these Hannibal spoke graciously.

Since the Tarentines, in the joy of their unexpected hope, signaled approval of all he said with one voice, Hannibal dismissed the crowd for the moment, ordering every man to return at once to his own house and write on the door, “A Tarentine’s.”

Whoever wrote the same words on a Roman dwelling, he declared, would suffer death.

He then selected the most suitable men for action and sent them to plunder the Roman houses, giving as their watchword that every unmarked house should be treated as hostile. The rest he held in reserve in formation behind them.

Chapter 32 Massacre of Romans In Tarentum

After a great and varied mass of goods had been collected from the plundering, and the Carthaginians had gained a booty worthy of their expectations, they bivouacked under arms for the night. On the following day Hannibal consulted with the Tarentines and decided to wall off the city from the citadel, so that the Tarentines might no longer live in fear of the Romans occupying the acropolis.

First, then, he undertook to set up a palisade parallel to the wall of the citadel and to the trench that already lay before it.

But knowing clearly that the enemy would not allow this quietly and would show their strength at that point, he prepared his best troops, thinking that for the future nothing was more necessary than to strike terror into the Romans and make the Tarentines confident.

Accordingly, when the first palisade was being set up and the Romans made a bold and daring attack on the enemy, Hannibal engaged only briefly and drew out the onset of the Romans, and when most of them had come beyond the trench, he gave the signal to his own men and attacked.

A fierce struggle followed, as was natural in a narrow and enclosed space.

In the end the Romans were forced back and put to flight. Many fell by enemy hands in the fighting itself, but the greater number, pushed and hurled together into the trench, perished there.

Chapter 33 The Tarentines Themselves Spared

For the present, once Hannibal had safely completed the palisade, he remained quiet, since the enterprise had turned out exactly as he wished.

He had shut the enemy in and compelled them to stay inside their wall, afraid not only for themselves but also for the citadel, while among the civic leaders he inspired such confidence that they believed they would be strong enough against the Romans even without the Carthaginians.

After this, at a short distance from the palisade on the side toward the city, he dug a trench parallel to both the palisade and the wall of the citadel.

Then, by piling up the earth dug from it on the edge of the embankment nearer the city and placing a palisade on top, he made from this structure a security hardly inferior to a wall.

Inside this again, leaving a suitable interval toward the city, he undertook to construct an actual wall, beginning from the place called Soteira and carrying it as far as the district called the Deep Road, so that, even without men stationed upon them, the fortifications themselves would be enough to provide the Tarentines with safety.

Leaving behind a sufficient force and a body of cavalry suitable for guarding the city and patrolling along the wall, he encamped about forty stades from the city beside the river called by some the Galaesus but by most the Eurotas, which has that name from the Eurotas flowing by Lacedaemon.

The Tarentines have many such names in both country and city because their colony and kinship with the Spartans are openly acknowledged.

And when the wall was quickly nearing completion, thanks to the zeal and eagerness of the Tarentines and the cooperation of the Carthaginians, Hannibal next conceived the idea of taking the citadel as well.

Chapter 34 Hannibal Secures Tarentum

But just when his preparations for the siege were already complete, relief arrived by sea from Metapontum into the citadel, and the Romans, their spirits somewhat revived, attacked the works by night and destroyed all the constructions and machines that had been prepared. After this Hannibal gave up hope of besieging the citadel; but since the wall had now already been finished, he gathered the Tarentines and showed them why it was most important in the present circumstances to gain control of the sea.

For since the citadel, as I said before, commanded the points at the entrance to the harbor, the Tarentines could not use their ships at all or sail out from the harbor, while the Romans could safely receive by sea whatever they needed.

So long as that continued, it was impossible for the city ever to be securely free.

Seeing this clearly, Hannibal explained to the Tarentines that if the men holding the citadel were cut off from hope by sea, they themselves would immediately give way, abandon the place, and surrender it.

The Tarentines agreed with what he said, but as to how this could be done under present conditions they could not at all imagine it, unless a Carthaginian fleet should appear—and that was impossible at the time.

Therefore they could not understand toward what end Hannibal was making these remarks.

But when he said that it was obvious they could themselves, without any Carthaginians, gain command of the sea at once, they were even more astonished, unable to see his idea.

Hannibal had noticed that there was a broad and well-laid street within the cross-wall, running beside it from the harbor to the outer sea, and he planned to haul the ships from the harbor across to the southern seaboard.

The moment he revealed this design to the Tarentines, they not only agreed but admired the man exceedingly, deciding that nothing could surpass his quickness of mind and daring.

Wheeled transport was quickly made ready, and the plan passed into execution almost as soon as it was spoken, such was the eagerness and abundance of labor assisting the scheme.

In this way the Tarentines dragged their ships over into the outer sea and safely blockaded the Romans in the citadel, having cut off all outside relief.

Hannibal, after leaving a guard for the city, broke camp with the army, and on the third day returned to his original palisaded camp, where he remained for the rest of the winter.

Chapter 35 Additional Fortifications

The Roman general Tiberius was caught in an ambush and, after meeting the danger bravely together with those about him, lost his life. In cases of this sort, whether one ought to blame the sufferers or excuse them, it is not safe to pronounce absolutely, because many men who have done everything that reason required have nevertheless fallen into the power of those who readily violate the laws of justice recognized among mankind.

Yet one should not on that account lazily refrain from judgment altogether; rather, by looking to the occasion and the circumstances, one should decide which generals deserve blame and which deserve pardon. What I mean will become clear from the following examples.

Archidamus, king of the Lacedaemonians, suspected the ambition of Cleomenes and fled from Sparta; but not long afterward he was persuaded to return and entrusted himself to that same man.

He was therefore deprived at once of both power and life, and left himself no defense before posterity.

For when the situation remained the same, and the ambition and power of Cleomenes had actually increased, how could a man who handed himself over to those very persons from whom he had earlier escaped only with difficulty reasonably expect anything but such an end?

In the same way Pelopidas of Thebes, though he knew Alexander the tyrant's lawlessness and clearly understood that every tyrant regards the champions of liberty as his bitterest enemies, not only persuaded Epaminondas to stand forth as leader of freedom for Thebes and indeed for Greece, but even when he himself had gone to Thessaly as an enemy bent on overthrowing Alexander's monarchy, he nevertheless consented to serve as ambassador to him a second time.

As a result, after falling into the enemy's hands, he inflicted great harm on the Thebans and ruined the reputation he had formerly won, by rashly and uncritically trusting the very man in whom he least ought to have trusted.

Something similar happened to Gnaeus the Roman commander during the Sicilian war, when he irrationally put himself into the enemy's power; and there are many others as well.

Chapter 36 The Tarentines Blockade the Romans

Therefore men who hand themselves over to the enemy without due caution deserve blame, but those who take every precaution that the case allows do not deserve censure.

For to trust no one at all would in the end make action impossible, whereas to act reasonably after obtaining all the guarantees one can is beyond reproach.

The guarantees available are oaths, children, wives, and, greatest of all, a previous life and character.

Thus, if someone is deceived and trapped through such guarantees as these, the reproach lies not with the sufferer but with the men who committed the act.

One ought therefore above all to seek guarantees of such a kind that the man trusted cannot violate them.

Since that is hard to find, the second-best course is to take every reasonable precaution, so that even if we fail, we do not lose the pardon of outside observers. And this has happened in the case of many before now.

The clearest example, and the one nearest to the times with which the present discussion is concerned, is what happened to Achaeus.

He omitted none of the precautions possible for prudence and safety, but after providing for everything so far as human intelligence could, he nevertheless fell into the enemy's hands.

Yet what happened won pity and pardon from outsiders for the sufferer, and brought only slander and hatred upon those who did the deed.

Chapter 37 Fall of Syracuse, 212 BC

He counted the courses of stone; for the tower was built of regular blocks, so that it was quite easy to calculate from the ground the height of the battlements.

Some days later a deserter reported that the people in the city had now for three days been holding a public sacrifice to Artemis, and that, though they were using scanty food because of scarcity, they had wine in abundance, a large supply having been provided both by Epicydes and by the Syracusans. Marcus then selected a section of wall where it was lower, and, thinking it likely that the men would be drunk because of the festivity and the lack of solid food, decided to test the hope he had formed.

Two ladders were quickly made, fitted to the height of the wall, and he then proceeded with the remaining arrangements, speaking openly to the men best suited for the climb and for facing the first and most conspicuous danger, and filling them with great hopes for the future.

He also chose the men who were to assist them and carry the ladders, explaining nothing except that they should be ready for what was ordered. When they had obeyed exactly as instructed, he roused the foremost men at the proper hour of night.

Sending ahead the men with the ladders, along with a standard, a military tribune, and the others assigned to the attempt, and reminding them again of the rewards awaiting brave conduct, he then

roused the entire army and sent out the leading contingents, one by one, under their standards and at intervals.

When about a thousand had gone, he himself followed after a short delay with the rest of the force.

The men carrying the ladders managed to set them safely against the wall without being noticed, and those appointed to the ascent at once mounted without hesitation.

When these too had escaped notice and had gained a firm position upon the wall, all the rest, no longer preserving the original order but each as he could, came running up by the ladders.

At first, as they advanced along the wall, they found the guard-posts deserted. For the men gathered in the towers because of the sacrifice were either still drinking or had long since fallen asleep in drunkenness.

Therefore the Romans came suddenly upon the first and then the next groups and quietly killed most of them before they knew what was happening.

Then, when they came near the Hexapylae and descended, they broke open the first postern gate built into the wall, through which they admitted the general and the rest of the army. In this way the Romans took Syracuse.

None of the citizens realized what was happening, because of the distance, since the city was large.

And the Romans took courage because they held the high ground around Epipolae.

Chapter 38 Beasts of Burden Used as a Defensive Wall

Quoted by Suidas, Lexicon.

He ordered the infantry to take the pack-mules from the rear, baggage and all, and place them in front of themselves. Once this was done, the screen proved safer than any palisade.

Chapter 38b Angara and a Man Resolved to Endure

Angara is a city of Italy; its ethnic name is Angarates.

In the end, clinging to uncertain hopes because the punishment before him was obvious, he resolved to endure everything.

Book IX

Hannibal and the Carthaginian cavalry reconnoitring outside the Servian walls of Rome (211 BC). Book IX, 5–7.

Chapter 1 Extract from the Preface

These, then, are the most notable actions included in the Olympiad already mentioned, and in the four-year span which, as we say, must be counted as an Olympiad. I will try to explain them in two books.

I am not unaware that my work has something austere about it, and that because of the uniform character of its plan it is fitted for, and judged by, only one class of readers.

For almost all other historians, or at least most of them, draw many people to their books by making use of every branch of history.

Genealogical writing attracts the lover of such tales; accounts of colonies, city-foundations, and kinships among peoples attract the inquisitive and antiquarian reader, as one may see in Ephorus; political readers are drawn by narratives of the deeds of nations, cities, and dynasts.

I, however, have directed myself solely to this last kind of subject and have arranged the whole of my work around it. So, as I said before, I have made it especially suited to one kind of reader, but have also made the reading less entertaining for the majority.

Why I rejected the other parts of history and chose instead to write only about actions, I have explained more fully elsewhere; still, there is no harm in briefly reminding my readers of it here once again, simply to make the point clear.

Chapter 2 Why Focus on Actions

Since many writers, and in many different ways, have already treated genealogies, myths, colonies, and also kinships and city-foundations, any man who now takes up those subjects must either present what belongs to others as if it were his own—which is the most disgraceful course of all—or else, if he refuses to do that, plainly waste his labor by working over matters that earlier writers have already explained well enough and handed down to posterity.

For these reasons, and for many others besides, I left such themes aside.

Pragmatic history, on the other hand, deserved approval first because events are always producing something new and therefore require a fresh account; one generation cannot simply report the actions that come after it.

Secondly, this kind of history is the most useful of all—and though it always was so, it is especially so in our own day, now that experience and the arts have advanced so far that eager students can handle whatever circumstances arise almost methodically, as if by rule.

Therefore I aimed not so much at giving pleasure to casual readers as at benefiting those who pay serious attention; and so, leaving the rest aside, I devoted myself to this branch of history.

Those who read my work with care from beginning to end will be the surest witnesses to the truth of what I say here.

Chapter 3 The Hannibalian War

Hannibal surrounded Appius's camp on every side and at first confined himself to skirmishing and testing the Romans, wanting to draw them out into battle.

But since no one responded, what followed came to resemble a siege. The cavalry charged in squadrons and, with loud shouting, hurled their javelins into the camp, while the infantry advanced in companies and tried to tear down the palisade.

Even so, he could not move the Romans from their fixed resolve. Their light-armed troops beat back the men attacking the rampart, while the heavily armed soldiers, sheltering themselves from the storm of missiles with their armor, stayed in formation by their standards.

Hannibal, dissatisfied with the whole situation because he could neither break into the city nor draw the Romans out, began considering what he ought to do next.

And in my opinion these events would have seemed puzzling not only to the Carthaginians, but to anyone else who heard of them.

For who would not have found it hard to believe that the Romans, after being defeated in many battles by the Carthaginians and not daring any longer to meet them in open combat, still could neither be forced to give way nor induced to abandon the open country?

Up to this time they had merely shadowed Hannibal, always keeping to the foothills; but now they had taken their stand on the plains and in the most conspicuous region of Italy were besieging its strongest city, even while the enemy pressed them on every side—an enemy whom they could not even bear to face in pitched battle.

Meanwhile the Carthaginians, though they were winning battles without interruption, at some moments were in difficulties no less than the defeated side.

It seems to me that the cause lay partly in the deliberate policy of both sides, since both had recognized that Hannibal's cavalry formation was the reason why the Carthaginians won and the Romans were beaten.

That is why, after the battles, the defeated Roman camps naturally followed at a distance: they moved through terrain where the enemy cavalry could do them no harm.

And for the same reason, what happened around Capua at that time followed naturally for both sides alike.

Chapter 4 The Siege of Capua

For the Roman army did not dare to come out and fight because it feared the enemy cavalry, but it remained boldly inside its camp, clearly understanding that the cavalry by which it had been beaten in battle would there be powerless to hurt it.

The Carthaginians, on the other hand, quite naturally could not remain encamped for long with their cavalry, because the Romans had destroyed all the fodder in the neighboring country for this very purpose, and it was impossible, by carrying hay or barley on their backs from a great distance, to supply so large a body of cavalry and so many pack animals.

Yet they also did not dare, if camped without their cavalry, to assault enemies protected by ditch and palisade, since, without their cavalry, even a fight on equal terms was of doubtful issue for them.

Besides this, Hannibal was anxious that the incoming consuls might arrive, pitch camp against him, and put him in severe difficulty by cutting off his supplies.

Reasoning from all this, Hannibal concluded that it was impossible to lift the siege by direct force and adopted another plan.

He thought that if he made his march in secret and suddenly appeared in the region around Rome, he might perhaps achieve some useful result against the city itself by frightening the inhabitants with the unexpectedness of his arrival.

And if not that, he would at least force Appius either to raise the siege in haste to help his country, or to divide his forces—making both the relieving troops and those left behind easier to defeat.

Chapter 5 Hannibal Advances Upon Rome

With this in mind, Hannibal sent a letter-carrier into Capua. He persuaded one of the Libyans to desert to the Roman camp and from there make his way into the city, taking precautions to ensure that the letter would be delivered safely.

For he was very anxious that, if the Capuans saw him departing without understanding the plan, they might lose heart as though he had given them up and so surrender to the Romans.

So he wrote to explain the purpose behind his withdrawal and sent the Libyan off, in order that once the Capuans understood his intention and the reason for the separation, they might endure the siege

with confidence.

Meanwhile, when news reached Rome from the region of Capua that Hannibal had pitched camp opposite their lines and was besieging their forces, everyone in the city was thrown into alarm and fear, since the crisis seemed likely to affect the whole war.

Accordingly all alike bent their efforts toward this one object, devoting themselves to dispatches, reinforcements, and military preparations.

The Capuans, however, after receiving the letter brought by the Libyan and learning the Carthaginian plan, held firmly to their former resolve, deciding to put this fresh hope to the test.

Then, on the fifth day after his arrival, Hannibal had his men take supper, left the campfires burning, and so conducted the withdrawal that none of the enemy noticed what was happening.

He marched through Samnium at speed and without interruption, constantly sending his advance troops ahead to scout the route and seize key positions.

Thus, while the minds of those in Rome were still fixed on Capua and the operations there, he crossed the Anio unnoticed, came close to the city, and encamped no more than forty stades from Rome.

Chapter 6 Rome Saved by Luck

When this happened and the news reached Rome, the people of the city were thrown into complete confusion and terror.

The whole affair was sudden and wholly unexpected, since Hannibal had never before advanced so near the city; and another thought also crept in among them—that the enemy could never have dared come so close and with such confidence unless the Roman armies around Capua had been destroyed.

So the men occupied the walls and the strong positions in front of the city, while the women went around the temples imploring the gods, brushing the floors of the sanctuaries with their hair.

For this is their custom whenever some overwhelming danger overtakes their country.

But just when Hannibal had encamped and was planning on the following day to test the city itself, an extraordinary and fortunate accident occurred that helped save Rome.

Gnaeus and Publius had already completed the enrollment for one army, and the soldiers had sworn to appear in arms at Rome on that very day; and for the other army the enrollment and examination were then in progress.

As a result, a large number of men happened to be assembled at Rome at exactly the right moment. The commanders boldly led them out, encamped in front of the city, and checked Hannibal's advance.

At first the Carthaginians pushed forward, not altogether despairing of taking Rome itself by storm. But when they saw the opposing force drawn up in battle order and quickly learned from a prisoner what had happened, they abandoned the attack on the city and instead marched through the countryside, ravaging the land and burning the houses.

At the beginning they gathered into their camp an immense quantity of plunder, as though they had come upon a hunting ground of exactly the kind no one had ever expected an enemy to enter.

Chapter 7 Hannibal In Sight of Rome

But afterward, when the consuls boldly ventured to encamp only ten stades away, Hannibal—having now amassed a great quantity of booty, having lost hope of any success against the city, and above all calculating that by this time Appius ought, according to the original plan, to have learned of Rome's danger and either to have raised the siege altogether and come to help, or at least to have left part of his force behind and hurried off with the greater part—broke camp at dawn.

He believed that whichever of these things happened would serve his purpose well, and so set his army in motion before daybreak.

Publius and his men, however, broke down the bridges over the river just mentioned and forced Hannibal to take his army across the stream itself.

As the Carthaginians were making the crossing they pressed hard upon them and caused them great trouble.

They could not accomplish anything decisive because of the number of Hannibal's cavalry and the readiness of the Numidians on every kind of ground; but after stripping away a fair part of the booty and killing about three hundred of the enemy, they then withdrew to their camp.

After that, thinking that the Carthaginians were retreating in haste out of fear, they followed in their rear along the foothills.

Hannibal at first kept up his speed, eager to carry out the plan before him; but on the fifth day, when word was brought that Appius and his army were still remaining at the siege, he halted, waited for the pursuers to come up, and while it was still night attacked their camp.

He killed many of them and drove the rest out of the camp.

When day came and he saw that the Romans had withdrawn to a strong hill, he gave up any thought of continuing the attack against them.

Instead he marched through Daunia and Bruttium and suddenly appeared in the region of Rhegium, coming so unexpectedly that he came within a little of taking the city itself, cut off all those who had gone out into the countryside, and in that visit made himself master of a large number of Rhegines.

Chapter 8 Epaminondas and Hannibal Compared

At this point, I think, one may fairly pause to note the courage and ambition both of the Carthaginians and of the Romans in war.

For just as everyone admires the Theban Epaminondas because, after coming to Tegea with the allies and observing that the Spartans themselves had all assembled at Mantinea, together with their allies, in order to fight the Thebans, he ordered his own men to take supper early and led out the army as night was just coming on, pretending that he was hurrying to seize certain advantageous positions for the coming battle, but after creating that impression among the rank and file actually marched straight toward Sparta itself, and, arriving unexpectedly at about the third hour, found Sparta empty of defenders, forced his way as far as the marketplace, and occupied the parts of the city that slope toward the river, yet then suffered a reversal because some deserter got through during the night to Mantinea and informed King Agesilaus what was happening, and help arrived just at the critical moment when the city was on the point of being taken, so that he failed in that hope; but afterward, having had breakfast by the Eurotas and allowed his troops to recover from their exertions, he again set out by the same road in the opposite direction, calculating that since the Spartans and their allies had gone off to help Sparta, Mantinea would in turn be left undefended—which is exactly what happened.

So he encouraged the Thebans, pushed on with a vigorous night march, and came up to Mantinea about midday, when it was completely abandoned by those who might have defended it.

But at this very moment the Athenians, eager under their alliance to take part with the Spartans in the struggle against the Thebans, arrived.

And just as the Theban vanguard was reaching the sanctuary of Poseidon, which lies seven stades in front of the city, it so happened that the Athenians appeared on the hill above Mantinea.

At the sight of them, the Mantineans who had been left behind only then found courage enough to mount the walls and block the Theban assault.

For this reason historians are justified in their criticism of those events, when they say that the commander did everything that a good general could do, and that Epaminondas was superior to his enemies but inferior to Fortune.

Chapter 9 When Audacity is the Truest Safety

The same remark may be made about Hannibal as well.

First, he attacked the enemy and tried by a series of partial engagements to raise the siege.

Then, after failing in that attempt, he rushed straight at Rome itself; and when that purpose also was frustrated by accidents beyond calculation, he turned back again, crushed the troops pursuing him,

and held himself ready in case any movement should occur among those besieging Capua.

And finally, without abandoning his design, he flung himself against the enemy to injure them, and all but wiped out the people of Rhegium.

Who would not mark such a commander out for admiration?

And yet at this moment one might judge the Romans superior to the Spartans.

For the Spartans, thrown into confusion at the first message, saved Sparta indeed, but so far as they were concerned they lost Mantinea.

The Romans, however, both preserved their own country and did not raise the siege. Instead, they remained steadfast and immovable in their original resolve, and from then on pressed the Capuans with still greater confidence.

I do not say this so much for the sake of praising either Romans or Carthaginians—for I have already noted their qualities more than once—as for the sake of those who hold command among either people, and of all who in later times will have charge of public affairs.

By remembering such actions, or by having them set before their eyes, they may become eager to imitate them [...]. For what seems rash and dangerous often turns out, on the contrary, to be real safety; and boldness of conception, if only it is guided by reason, remains admirable, noble, and worthy of remembrance whether it succeeds or fails.

Atella is a city of the Opici in Italy, lying between Capua and Neapolis. The ethnic name is Atellanus, as Polybius says in the ninth book: “The Atellani surrendered themselves.”

When the Romans were besieging Tarentum, Bomilcar the Carthaginian admiral came to help with a very large force. But since he could do nothing to assist those inside, because the Romans had secured their camp and blockade so well, he consumed his supplies without accomplishing anything. Though he had first been compelled to come by urgent appeals and great promises, he was later forced by the entreaties of the people within the city to sail away.

Chapter 10 The Spoils of Syracuse: Works of Art Taken To Rome

A city is not adorned by things brought in from outside, but by the virtue of its inhabitants.

For this reason the Romans decided to transfer the objects just mentioned to their own country and leave nothing behind.

Whether they acted rightly and to their own advantage, or the reverse, would require a long discussion. But the stronger argument, I think, is that they did not act properly then, and are not acting properly now when they do such things.

If it had been by means of such objects that they had first advanced their own country, then it would plainly have made sense to bring home the things through which they had grown great.

But if, while living in the utmost simplicity and keeping themselves far removed from the extravagance and luxury connected with such things, they nevertheless conquered people who possessed them in greatest abundance and of finest quality, how are we not to regard what they did as a mistake?

For to abandon the customs of the conquerors and take up admiration for those of the conquered, while at the same time taking on the jealousy that always follows such things—and that is the most dangerous thing for those in positions of superiority—must surely be acknowledged to be an error.

A spectator never praises those who possess what belongs to others so purely that pity for the original losers does not at once mingle with envy.

And when power continues to grow, and one people gathers everything belonging to others into its own hands, and in a sense invites the dispossessed to come and look at it all, the evil becomes double.

For then the spectators no longer pity their neighbors, but themselves, as the sight recalls their own disasters.

From this there springs not only envy, but a kind of anger against the prosperous, because the memory of their private misfortunes acts like a spur driving men to hatred of those who caused them.

There may perhaps be some reasonable argument for bringing gold and silver together into one's own possession; for no one can aspire to universal power without at once weakening the resources of others and preparing that kind of strength for himself.

But the things that lie outside this kind of power ought to have been left in their original places. In that way they would both have avoided stirring up envy and would have made their own country more glorious, adorning it not with paintings and statues, but with dignity and greatness of soul.

Let me say this for the sake of those who continually inherit positions of power, so that when they plunder cities they may not suppose that other people's disasters are an ornament to their own fatherlands. The Romans, however, after transferring these objects, used them to decorate private life in individual households and to embellish the public spaces of the city.

Chapter 11 Spain

The Carthaginian commanders, though they had mastered their enemies, could not master themselves.

Thinking that they had already brought the war with Rome to an end, they fell into internal quarrels, continually led into conflict by the Phoenicians' inborn greed and love of power.

Among them Hasdrubal son of Gesco, abusing the authority he possessed, went so far in wickedness that he demanded a large sum of money from Andobales, the most loyal of their Iberian friends—a man who had once lost his rule because of the Carthaginians and had only recently recovered it because of his goodwill toward them.

And when Andobales refused, confident because of his long-standing loyalty to Carthage, Hasdrubal brought a false accusation against him and forced him to hand over his daughters as hostages.

Chapter 11a Rome Seeks Grain from Egypt

The Romans sent envoys to Ptolemy because they wanted grain supplies, since there was a severe shortage among them.

All the countryside in Italy had been devastated by the armies as far as the very gates of Rome, and no help had come from outside, because wars were in progress and armies were encamped in every part of the inhabited world except the regions of Egypt.

So extreme had the scarcity at Rome become that a Sicilian medimnus was selling for fifteen drachmas.

And yet, though their situation was like this, they did not neglect the war.

Chapter 12 On the Art of Commanding Armies

Military enterprises are attended by many circumstances that require careful thought; yet in each case it is possible to hit upon the right course, if a man carries out his plan with intelligence.

That operations in war openly and forcibly executed are fewer than those accomplished by stratagem and by the timely use of opportunity is easy for anyone to learn from past events.

And that even among those operations that do depend on seizing the right moment, failures are more numerous than successes is also not hard to see from experience.

Nor would anyone doubt that most such failures come about through the ignorance or carelessness of commanders.

So we may now examine what method governs this sort of undertaking.

Events in war that occur unexpectedly ought not really to be called operations at all, but rather accidents and chance occurrences.

For that reason we may leave aside anything that cannot be treated methodically or reduced to a fixed principle. What should be explained is what is done according to deliberate design; and it is of this that the present discussion speaks.

Every action has its definite opportunity, duration, and place, and requires secrecy, fixed signals, and also clear knowledge of through whom, with whom, and in what manner it is to be carried out.

It is therefore plain that the man who gets each of these points right will not fail in his enterprise, whereas one who neglects even a single point will ruin the whole design.

So much has nature made even one small detail enough to bring an intended plan to failure [...]

Chapter 13 Scientific Strategy

Success demands that everything be adequately provided for; for that reason commanders must neglect nothing in undertakings of this kind.

The first principle of all is silence: a man must not, whether from delight at some unexpected hope, or from fear, or from familiarity, or from affection, share the plan with anyone outside the circle, but only with those without whom the design cannot be brought to completion—and not even with them before the moment when the need for each person's part compels disclosure.

And one must keep silence not only with the tongue, but even more with the mind.

For many men, though they concealed their words, have betrayed their designs by their very expression, or even by the actions they took.

The second requirement is to know the capacities of marches by day and by night, and the distances that can be covered in each, not only on land but also at sea.

Third, and most important, one must understand the opportunities provided by the seasons and be able to adapt the plan rightly to them.

Nor should the place of action be treated as a small matter, since it often happens that because of the ground what seems impossible becomes possible, while what seemed possible turns out impossible.

Finally, one must not neglect signals and counter-signals, or the choice of the persons through whom and with whom the decided action is to be carried out.

Chapter 14 Generals Also Need to Know Science

Of the matters just mentioned, some are learned through practice, some from history, and some by systematic experience.

Best of all is for the commander himself to know the roads, the place to which he must come, the nature of the ground, and in addition the men through whom and with whom he is going to act.

Second best is to make careful inquiry and not trust random people; indeed, the reliability of guides in such matters should always be secured in some definite way.

These things, and others like them, perhaps can be acquired by commanders through military practice itself, some by direct experience and some by history.

But what comes from scientific knowledge requires instruction and principles, especially from astronomy and geometry. The actual labor of these sciences is not great for the purpose in view, yet their value is great and they can contribute greatly to the operations I have described.

Their most necessary use lies in reckoning night and day. If those periods were always equal, the matter would require no study and the knowledge would be common to all.

But since they differ not only from each other, but also vary in themselves, it is clearly necessary to know the increase and decrease of each.

For how can anyone correctly estimate a march and the distance possible by day or by night unless he has understood those differences?

And indeed it is impossible to arrive at the proper moment without such knowledge; one must otherwise either be late or arrive too early.

In these operations, arriving too early is an even greater mistake than being late.

For the man who passes beyond the appointed moment merely misses his opportunity, since he can learn from a distance what has happened and withdraw again safely.

But the man who comes too early, by approaching before the time and being noticed, not only fails in the enterprise but risks everything.

Chapter 15 Mode of Calculating Time

In all human actions the critical moment has power, but most of all in war.

Therefore a general ought to have ready at hand the summer and winter solstices, the equinoxes, and the intervals between them in which days and nights increase and diminish.

Only in this way can he properly measure the distances that can be covered, whether by land or by sea.

He must also know the divisions of time both by day and by night, so as to understand when reveille should be sounded and when a march should begin.

For no one can attain the end if he has failed to get the beginning right.

The times of day can be observed without difficulty from the shadow, from the sun's course, and from the distances it traverses across the sky.

Those of night are harder to judge unless one can follow, from what is visible, the arrangement and order of the twelve signs of the zodiac; yet even this is easy for those who have carefully studied the

heavens.

For although nights are unequal in length, it nevertheless happens that in every night six of the twelve signs rise above the horizon. It is therefore clear that in corresponding parts of every night equal portions of the zodiac must rise.

And since the sun's position is known each day, it is clear that, when the sun sets, the degree diametrically opposite it must rise.

What remains is that whatever part of the zodiac appears to have risen after that point indicates how much of the night has elapsed.

And once the signs of the zodiac are known both in number and in size, the particular divisions of the night also become known accordingly.

On cloudy nights one must pay attention to the moon, because by reason of its size its light is almost always visible wherever in the sky it may be.

Sometimes one must estimate from the times and places of its rising, and sometimes again from those of its setting, provided one has enough understanding in this matter to keep pace with the daily changes in those risings.

There is an easy way to observe this as well, for one month marks out a single evident cycle, perceptible to the senses [...]

Chapter 16 Example: Ulysses

For this reason one may praise the poet for representing Odysseus, that most capable of leaders, as drawing inferences from the stars not only for navigation, but also for operations on land.

For unexpected events, which cannot be fully anticipated by exact foresight, are enough by themselves to produce great and repeated difficulties, such as heavy rains, floods of rivers, severe frosts and snowfalls, thick and cloudy air, and all other things of that sort.

So if we also neglect matters that can in fact be foreseen, how can it fail to be our own fault when we miss success in most cases?

Therefore none of the things just mentioned should be neglected, if we do not want to fall into the kind of blunders into which many others are said to have fallen, as well as those men whom I am now about to mention by way of example.

Chapter 17 Failures Arising From Ignorance

When Aratus, the Achaean general, planned to seize the city of Cynaetha by treachery, he agreed with his collaborators inside the city on a day when Aratus was to come by night to the river flowing from

Cynaetha and wait there with his force, lingering as if at [...].

The men inside, about midday when they got the chance, were to send one of their number out through the gate quietly, wrapped in a cloak, and tell him to stand before the city on the tomb that had been agreed upon as the signal.

The rest were to lay hands on the officials who, around midday, when they were asleep, were accustomed to guard the gate.

Once that was done, the Achaeans were to hurry out from their ambush and make straight for the gate.

When all had been arranged and the time came, Aratus arrived and remained hidden by the river, waiting for the signal.

But about the fifth hour a man who kept fine sheep near the city happened to need to ask a shepherd some ordinary question. He came out through the gate wearing a cloak and stood on the very same tomb, looking around for the shepherd.

Aratus and his men thought the agreed signal had been given and all rushed toward the city in haste.

But the gate was quickly shut by the guards, since the men inside had not yet made any preparations. So Aratus not only failed in the attempt, but brought the gravest misfortunes upon those within who were helping him: for once they were exposed, they were immediately seized and put to death.

What, then, was the cause of this disaster? It was that the general had made the signal too simple, being still young and inexperienced in the precision provided by double signals and counter-signals.

So narrow is the margin by which military operations incline toward success or failure.

Chapter 18 Cleomenes Tries to Take Megalopolis

Likewise Cleomenes the Spartan, intending to capture Megalopolis by stratagem, arranged with the men guarding the stretch of wall near the place called Pholeus that he would come by night with his force during the third watch; for at that hour his accomplices happened to be on guard at the wall.

But because he failed to take into account that around the rising of the Pleiades the nights are already very short, he set his army in motion from Sparta at sunset.

As a result he could not get there in time, and when daylight overtook him he made a rash and senseless attempt, failed disgracefully, lost many men, and put everything at risk.

Yet if he had struck the agreed time correctly and had brought in his troops while his supporters controlled the entrance, he would not have failed in the attempt.

Again, King Philip too, as I said earlier, made two mistakes in his intrigue against the city of the Melitaeans: he brought ladders shorter than the need required, and he also failed in timing.

For though he had arranged to arrive around midnight, when everyone would already be asleep, he started too early from Larisa and reached the territory of the Melitaeans before the proper moment.

He could neither remain where he was, for fear that his arrival would be reported to those inside, nor withdraw again and still escape notice.

So, compelled to continue forward, he reached the city while the people were still awake. Consequently he could neither force an entry by ladders, because they were out of proportion, nor get in through the gate, because the men inside could not cooperate at that hour.

In the end he merely stirred up the city, lost many of his own men, and returned in disgrace without accomplishing anything, having done nothing except warn everyone else to distrust him and stay on their guard.

Chapter 19 Example: Why Nicias Failed at Syracuse

Again Nicias, the Athenian general, was in a position to save the army at Syracuse. He had chosen the proper moment of the night to escape the notice of the enemy and withdraw to safety, but when an eclipse of the moon occurred he became superstitious, as though it portended some grave danger, and halted the departure.

Because of this, when he set the army in motion on the following night, the enemy had already sensed what was happening, and both the camp and the commanders fell into the hands of the Syracusans.

And yet, if he had only asked those who had experience in such matters, he could not only have avoided missing his proper opportunity for so foolish a reason, but could even have used the phenomenon to his own advantage because of the enemy's ignorance.

For the ignorance of one's opponents is a great advantage to those who understand.

So much, then, for the need to study astronomy up to the point already described. As for the proper proportion of ladders, the method of calculating it is as follows.

If the height of the wall is supplied by one of the collaborators inside, the proper size of the ladders is obvious: if the wall's height is, say, ten units, the ladders ought to be twelve of the same units, with some room to spare.

And the distance of the foot of the ladder from the wall should be half the ladder's length, so that the ladders may neither stand too far off and break easily under the weight of those climbing, nor lean too upright and become dangerously insecure for the men mounting them.

But if it is impossible either to measure the wall or even to get near it, then one must estimate from a distance the height of any object that stands upright at right angles to a level surface.

The method of making this estimate is both practicable and easy for those willing to study what mathematicians teach.

Chapter 20 Need of Some Knowledge of Mathematics

Therefore it is again clear that those who wish to succeed in military enterprises and operations must have studied geometry—not with full professional mastery, but enough to understand proportion and the theory of similarity.

For this knowledge is necessary not only in the cases already mentioned, but also in rearranging the shapes of camps, so that one may sometimes alter the whole form while preserving the same proportions among all the enclosed parts, and at other times keep the same shapes while increasing or reducing the ground occupied by the camp, always in proportion to the numbers added to or removed from it.

I have explained these matters more exactly in my notes on tactical formations.

And I do not think anyone can reasonably blame me for adding many requirements to the art of generalship by insisting that those who aim at it must study astronomy and geometry.

For while I strongly reject what is superfluous in such disciplines—what is dragged in merely for display and empty talk—and likewise reject carrying them further than practical usefulness demands, I am very earnest and serious about what is necessary.

It would be absurd if those who aspire to dancing or flute-playing willingly accept preliminary training in rhythm and music, and likewise the corresponding preparation required for athletics, because the final achievement in each field seems to need the help of such studies, while those who claim to pursue generalship should feel annoyed if they must take up outside disciplines to some limited extent. That would mean that practitioners of vulgar crafts are more diligent and more ambitious than men who choose to distinguish themselves in the noblest and most dignified of pursuits.

No sensible person would admit such a thing. Let this be enough on these matters.

Chapter 21 The Computation of the Size of Cities

Given the state of feeling on both sides, among Romans and Carthaginians alike, and since the turns dealt by Fortune kept alternately reversing themselves for each, it was natural, as the poet says, that sorrow and joy should enter their hearts together.

Chapter 22 Hannibal as the One Directing Mind

In all that befell both sides—Romans and Carthaginians alike—there was one man and one mind responsible: I mean Hannibal.

For he was admittedly the one directing affairs in Italy, and in Spain he acted through his elder brother Hasdrubal, and afterward through Mago.

It was these men who killed both Roman commanders in Spain.

And in Sicily too he managed events, at first through Hippocrates and later through Myttonus the Libyan.

Likewise in Greece and Illyria: by magnifying the fear arising from those regions he alarmed and distracted the Romans through his cooperation with Philip.

So great and marvelous a force does one man become, and one soul properly fitted from the beginning to whatever human undertaking it turns itself.

But since the course of events has brought us to consider Hannibal's nature, the occasion seems to require that I should explain the qualities in him that have been most disputed.

For some think him excessively cruel, while others think him greedy for money. Yet to tell the truth about him—or about any man actively engaged in public affairs—is not easy.

Some say that men's natures are exposed by circumstances, and that some become manifest while holding power, even if they were previously reserved, while others are revealed in adversity.

I, however, do not think this saying sound. It seems to me that men are often—indeed for the most part—forced, sometimes by the influence of friends and sometimes by the complexity of events, to speak and act against their real intention.

Chapter 23 Examples of Actions Contrary to Principles

Anyone may recognize this if he pays attention to many events that have already happened.

Who has not heard that Agathocles, tyrant of Sicily, though he had the reputation of being extraordinarily savage in the first measures by which he established his power, later, once he believed his rule over the Siceliots securely fixed, appeared to become remarkably gentle and mild?

And again, was not Cleomenes the Spartan an excellent king, a most bitter tyrant, and then, as a private man, exceedingly gracious and humane?

Yet it is not likely that the most opposite dispositions truly existed in the same nature. Rather, some rulers, compelled by changes in circumstances to change with them, often display to the outside world a temper contrary to their real character; so that such behavior does not reveal their natures at all, but rather obscures them.

The same thing is accustomed to happen through the influence of friends, not only to commanders, dynasts, and kings, but to cities as well.

Thus one may find that the Athenians committed few harsh acts and many noble and honorable ones when Aristides and Pericles led the state, but the opposite when Cleon and Chares did so.

And when the Spartans held supremacy in Greece, everything done under King Cleombrotus had an allied and cooperative character, while what was done under Agesilaus had the opposite tendency.

So even the character of cities changes with the differences among their leaders.

King Philip too, when Taurion or Demetrius were advising him, was most impious, but when Aratus or Chrysogonus were with him, he was most gentle.

Chapter 24 Monomachus Proposes Eating Human Flesh

Something similar, it seems to me, happened in Hannibal's case as well.

For he found himself in extraordinary and shifting circumstances, and his closest friends differed from one another greatly; so that from his conduct in Italy it is very hard to discern his true character.

What influence circumstances had upon him can easily be learned both from what has already been said and from what is still to be said. But one should not pass over the influence of his friends, especially since a single example is enough to make the matter clear.

At the time when Hannibal was planning to march with his forces from Iberia into Italy, the difficulty of food and of preparing supplies for the army appeared immense, both because the route seemed impossibly long and because of the number and savagery of the barbarian peoples living between.

At that time, when this difficulty was being discussed again and again in council, one of his friends, called Hannibal Monomachus, is said to have declared that he saw one and only one way by which it would be possible to reach Italy.

When Hannibal told him to speak, he said they must teach the army to eat human flesh and accustom them to it.

[...] Hannibal could say nothing against the daring and practical force of the proposal, but he could not persuade either himself or his friends to entertain the idea.

Yet it is said that the deeds in Italy that were later attributed to Hannibal as proofs of cruelty were in fact the work of this man, and no less of circumstances.

Chapter 25 Hannibal's Greed

He does seem, however, to have been markedly fond of money, and to have employed a money-loving associate, Mago, the man in charge of operations in Bruttium.

This account I received from the Carthaginians themselves.

For natives know best, as the proverb says, not only which way the winds are blowing, but also the character of the people among whom they live.

And I heard it even more precisely from Masannasus [...], who brought charges in general against all Carthaginians, but especially against Hannibal and Mago the so-called Samnite, for greed.

Among other things, he said that from early youth these men had been partners in affairs with each other most loyally, and although each had taken many cities both in Iberia and in Italy—some by force and some by surrender—they never shared in the same action together.

Instead, they were always scheming more against each other than against the enemy, so that one might not be present when the other captured a city, and they might neither quarrel over such matters nor have to divide the profit, since their rank and standing were equal.

Chapter 26 Hannibal Treats Different Cities in Different Ways

That Hannibal's nature was often constrained and altered not only by the influence of his friends, but still more by the force of circumstances, is clear both from what has already been said and from what is about to be told.

For as soon as Capua came into Roman hands, the cities at once, and quite naturally, became unsettled and began looking for opportunities and pretexts to change sides back to Rome.

It was then, it seems, that Hannibal, under the greatest pressure, fell into deep perplexity about the situation before him.

For he could neither remain in one place and keep watch over all the cities, since they lay so far apart and the enemy were moving against him with several armies, nor could he divide his own force into many parts, because he would thereby become easy prey for the enemy both from inferiority in numbers and from his inability to be personally present everywhere.

Accordingly he was compelled to abandon some cities openly and to withdraw garrisons from others, fearing that in the shifting course of events he might lose his own soldiers along with them.

Some cities he even treated with treacherous violence, transferring their inhabitants elsewhere and exposing their property to plunder.

Because of this, some men condemned him for impiety and others for cruelty.

For together with these measures there came robberies of money, murders, and acts of violence, on one pretext or another, committed both by soldiers going out of cities and by those entering them, since each side assumed that the inhabitants left behind were on the very point of going over to the enemy.

For these reasons it is extremely difficult to pronounce on Hannibal's true character, because of both the influence of his friends and the pressure of events.

The common report, however, was that among the Carthaginians he had the reputation of being greedy for money, and among the Romans of being cruel.

Chapter 26a Why Perimeter Does Not Measure Size

Most people judge the size of the places just mentioned from the mere length of their perimeter.

So if someone says that the city of the Megalopolitans has a circuit of fifty stades, while that of the Spartans is forty-eight, and yet that Sparta is twice as large in area as Megalopolis, the statement seems unbelievable to them.

And if, wanting to increase their perplexity, someone adds that a city or a camp whose circuit is forty stades can be twice as large as one whose perimeter is a hundred stades, what is said appears altogether astonishing to them.

The reason for this is that we do not remember the lessons taught us in childhood through geometry.

I have been led to speak about these matters because not only ordinary people, but also some of those engaged in public life and in positions of command, are bewildered, sometimes wondering whether the city of the Spartans can really be larger—indeed much larger—than that of the Megalopolitans, though it has the smaller circuit, and sometimes trying to estimate the number of men in camps by guessing from the perimeter alone.

A similar mistake also happens in judging the appearance of cities. Most people suppose that cities full of bends and hills contain more houses than level cities.

But this is not so, because the walls of buildings are constructed at right angles, not to the slopes of the ground, but to the level surfaces beneath them; and it turns out that the hills themselves stand upon those same surfaces.

Still, one can grasp the point in a simple way from what is visible.

For if one imagines the houses on slopes rising upward so that all of them are of equal height, it is clear that the single plane formed at the level of the roofs will be equal and parallel to the plane lying beneath the hills and beneath the foundations of the walls.

As for those who wish to command and take part in public life, yet are ignorant of such matters [...]

Chapter 27 Agrigentum

Let what has been said so far be enough on that subject. The city of the Agrigentines differs from most cities not only in the respects already mentioned, but also in strength, and especially in beauty and

construction.

It is built eighteen stades from the sea, so that it lacks none of the advantages the sea provides.

Its circuit of walls is exceptionally secure both by nature and by art.

For the wall stands on a rock that is steep and broken all around, in some parts naturally so and in others made so by human labor, and the city is enclosed by rivers.

Along its southern side runs the river that bears the same name as the city, and along the side facing west and the southwest runs the river called Hypsas.

The citadel of the city lies above it toward the summer sunrise, enclosed on the outer side by an inaccessible ravine, and on the inner side having only one approach from the city.

On its summit stand a sanctuary of Athena and one of Zeus Atabyrius, as at Rhodes.

For since Acragas was colonized by Rhodians, it is natural that this god should bear the same title there as among the Rhodians.

The rest of the city too is splendidly adorned with temples and colonnades. And though the temple of Olympian Zeus has not been completely finished, in conception and size it seems inferior to none of those in Greece.

Polybius says that both the river and the city were called Acragas from the fertility of the land.

Marcus, after giving guarantees of safety, persuaded them to withdraw to Italy, on the condition that they should receive rations from the people of Rhegium while they ravaged Bruttium, and that they should keep whatever profit they won from enemy territory.

Chapter 28 Greece: Philip Reduces Thessaly

That the Macedonian domination, men of Lacedaemon, proved to be the beginning of slavery for the Greeks, I am persuaded no one would dare to deny; and you may consider the matter in this way.

There was a federation of Greeks in the Thracian region, colonized by Athenians and Chalcidians, among whom the city of Olynthus possessed the greatest standing and power.

When Philip enslaved it and made it an example, he became master not only of the cities in Thrace but also brought the Thessalians under his control through fear.

Not long afterward he defeated the Athenians in battle and behaved magnanimously in his success—not because he wished to benefit the Athenians, far from it, but in order that by his kindness toward them he might induce the rest to do willingly what he commanded.

At that time the prestige of your own city still remained, and it looked likely that in a suitable moment Sparta would place herself once more at the head of Greece.

Therefore Philip seized on every plausible pretext, came with his forces, and ravaged your land by cutting it down and by burning your houses.

In the end, after stripping you of both cities and countryside, he assigned part of your territory to the Argives, part to the Tegeans and Megalopolitans, and part to the Messenians, wishing to confer benefits on all of them, even against justice itself, on one condition only—that he should injure you.

Alexander succeeded him in power. And how he in turn destroyed Thebes, thinking that some small spark of Greek spirit still remained there, I suppose you all know well enough.

Chapter 29 Speech of Chlaeneas

And as for the successors who inherited his power, why need I speak in detail of the way they have treated the Greeks?

For there is no one alive so unconcerned with public affairs that he has not heard how Antipater, after defeating the Greeks in the Lamian War, treated the wretched Athenians most cruelly, and the others likewise.

His violence and lawlessness went so far that he appointed men to hunt down exiles and sent them to the cities after all who had spoken against, or in any way offended, the house of Macedon.

Some of these men were dragged by force from sanctuaries, others torn away from altars and put to death under torture, while those who escaped were driven out of all Greece; for they had no refuge except among the Aetolian people alone.

And who does not know what Cassander and Demetrius did, and with them Antigonus Gonatas? Since these events happened not long ago, the memory of them is perfectly clear.

Some of them planted garrisons in the cities, others installed tyrants, and so left no city untouched by the name of slavery.

But passing over these, I will now come to the last Antigonus, so that none of you, by viewing his conduct too innocently, may suppose yourselves under an obligation of gratitude to the Macedonians.

For Antigonus did not take up war against you because he meant to save the Achaeans, nor because he was offended by the tyranny of Cleomenes and wished to set the Spartans free.

That way of thinking would be very simple-minded indeed, if any of you hold it.

No: he saw that his own power would not be secure if you won mastery over the Peloponnesians; and he also saw that Cleomenes was naturally well fitted for that task, while Fortune was splendidly aiding you.

So he came in fear and jealousy, not to help the Peloponnesians, but to deprive you of your hopes and to humble your superiority.

Therefore you ought not so much to feel gratitude to the Macedonians because, after taking your city, they did not plunder it, as to regard them as enemies and hate them, because more than once already they have prevented you, when you were capable, from taking the leadership of Greece.

Chapter 30 Impiety of Philip

And as for Philip's lawless conduct, what need is there to say more?

Of his impiety toward the gods, the outrages committed against the temples at Thermus are enough; and of his cruelty toward men, his bad faith and treaty-breaking toward the Messenians.

[...] For the Aetolians alone among the Greeks stood face to face with Antipater for the safety of those unjustly deprived of security; they alone resisted Brennus and the barbarians with him; and they alone, when called upon, fought beside you, wishing to help restore to you your ancestral leadership of the Greeks.

Let that be enough on these matters. As for the present proposal before you, it is in one sense necessary to write and vote as though you were deliberating about war; yet in truth you must not think of this as a war at all.

For the Achaeans are not even going to imagine that they can harm your territory, and I think they will be deeply grateful to the gods if they can preserve their own when war closes around them—war from the Eleans and Messenians because of their alliance with us, and from us as well.

And I am fully persuaded that Philip will cease from his attack when he is being warred upon by land by the Aetolians and by sea by the Romans and King Attalus.

What is coming can be very easily inferred from what has already happened.

For if he was never able to subdue the Aetolians when he was fighting them alone, how could he reasonably be expected to hold out in the present war?

Chapter 31 Conclusion of the Speech

Let what I have said stand, then, in keeping with my original purpose: namely, to show you all that, even if you are not already committed, but are deliberating from a free starting point, it is more fitting for us to be allied with the Aetolians than with the Macedonians.

But if you are already prepossessed and have made up your minds about these matters, what argument is left?

For if you had made the alliance you now have with us before the benefits Antigonus conferred on you, there might perhaps have been room to question whether you ought, in deference to later favors, to disregard something of your earlier obligations.

But since it was after Antigonus had brought about that much-trumpeted freedom and safety—which these men throw in your teeth at every turn—that you then deliberated, repeatedly considered with yourselves whether you ought to join the Aetolians or the Macedonians, and chose to side with us Aetolians, giving us guarantees on this point, receiving the same from us, and even fighting beside us in the last war against the Macedonians, who can reasonably still be in doubt?

For whatever kindly relations you had with Antigonus and Philip were then set aside.

What remains is either to show that some wrong has since been done to you by the Aetolians, or some favor by the Macedonians; or else, if neither of these things has happened, how can you now, under the persuasion of those to whom you once rightly refused to listen when you were still free, be about to undo treaties, oaths, and the strongest pledges known among men?

With words like these Chlaeneas ended his speech, having spoken, it seemed, in a way that left little room for reply.

Chapter 32 Lyciscus Replies To Chlaeneas

After this Lyciscus, envoy of the Acarnanians, came forward. At first he paused, seeing that most of the audience were talking among themselves about what had just been said.

But when at last they fell silent, he began to speak more or less as follows:

“We, men of Lacedaemon, have come to you sent by the Acarnanian league; and since we have almost always shared the same hopes as the Macedonians, we regard this embassy as common to us and to them.

For just as in danger, because of the superiority and greatness of Macedonian power, our safety is included in their strength, so also in diplomatic contests the interest of the Acarnanians is included in the justice of the Macedonians.

Therefore you should not be surprised if we speak mostly on behalf of Philip and the Macedonians.

Now Chlaeneas, in bringing his speech to a close, gave a sharp summary of the claims that stand between you and his people.

For he said that if, after you had made your alliance with them, some fresh injury and offense had been committed by the Aetolians, or, by Zeus, some act of kindness by the Macedonians, then the present proposal might properly be considered as though from a new starting point.

But if nothing of that sort had happened, and we think that by bringing forward the services of Antigonus and your former decisions we shall now persuade you to undo oaths and treaties, then we are the simplest fools alive.

I for my part admit that, if nothing has happened since, as he says, and affairs in Greece remain just as they were before when you made the alliance with the Aetolians, then I am indeed the greatest fool of all and am about to offer you arguments that are empty.

But if the situation has taken exactly the opposite turn, as I shall clearly show as the speech goes on, then I think it will appear that I am giving you useful advice, and that Chlaeneas is mistaken.

For we have come persuaded that we ought to make our argument precisely on this point: to show why it is both fitting and advantageous for you, if possible, after hearing of the danger now threatening Greece, to resolve upon some noble and worthy course by sharing our hopes.

And if not [...]"

Chapter 33 Defence of Macedonian Policy

If you cannot do that, then for the present at least remain quiet. But since these men have dared from ancient times onward to accuse the house of Macedon, I think it necessary first to speak briefly on those matters, so as to remove the ignorance of those who have trusted what was said.

Chlaeneas said, then, that Philip son of Amyntas became master of Thessaly through the misfortune of the Olynthians.

I, however, believe that through Philip not only the Thessalians, but the rest of the Greeks as well, were saved.

For when Onomarchus and Philomelus seized Delphi in impious and lawless fashion and made themselves masters of the god's treasures, who among you does not know that they assembled so great a force that no Greek any longer dared face them?

Indeed, together with their impiety toward the divine, they were on the point of becoming masters of all Greece as well.

At that moment Philip voluntarily offered himself, overthrew the tyrants, secured the sanctuary, and became the cause of Greek freedom, as the facts themselves have testified both then and to posterity.

For it was not because Philip had wronged the Thessalians, as this man dared to claim, but because he was a benefactor of Greece, that all chose him as commander by land and sea—an honor no human being before him had received.

Yes, by Zeus, but he came into Laconia with an army.

Not by his own choice, as you know, but because the friends and allies in the Peloponnese repeatedly invited and summoned him, until at last he consented.

And once he came, Chlaeneas, look at how he handled the situation. Though he could have made use of the eagerness of the neighboring cities to destroy this people's land and humble their city, and could have done so with the greatest gratitude from others, he did not at all give himself over to such a course. Instead, after overawing both sides, he compelled them by argument, in the common interest, to bring their disputes before an assembly.

And he did not appoint himself judge over the matters in dispute, but set up a common court selected from all the Greeks. Is that something worthy of reproach and denunciation?

Chapter 34 Contrast Between Alexander and the Aetolians

Again, you bitterly reproached Alexander because, believing himself to have been wronged, he punished the city of Thebes.

But you made no mention of the fact that he exacted vengeance from the Persians for the insults done to all the Greeks, or that he delivered all of us together from great evils by subduing the barbarians and taking away from them the resources with which they had ruined the Greeks—sometimes by setting the Athenians and their ancestors against others, sometimes the Thebans—and in the end made Asia subject to the Greeks.

And as for his successors, how do you dare even mention them? In the circumstances of their times they often became the cause of good to some and of harm to others.

Perhaps other people might have some right to resent them for this. But it is not at all fitting for you to do so, since you have never been responsible for any good to anyone, but for many evils to many people and many times over.

Who was it that called in Antigonus son of Demetrius to divide up the Achaean nation?

Who was it that made oaths and treaties with Alexander of Epirus for the enslavement and partition of Acarnania?

Was it not you? And what other people has ever sent out such commanders as you have—men who even dared to lay hands on sacred and inviolable sanctuaries?

Timaeus plundered the sanctuary of Poseidon at Taenarum and the sanctuary of Artemis at Lusi.

Pharycus and Polycritus robbed, one the precinct of Hera at Argos, the other that of Poseidon at Mantinea.

And what of Lattabus and Nicostratus? Did they not, in time of peace, violate their agreement at the assembly of the Pam-Boeotians, carrying out deeds worthy of Scythians and Gauls? Nothing of this

kind was done by the Successors.

Chapter 35 Services of Macedonians To Greece

And though you can make no defense against any of these charges, you still speak grandly of how you resisted the barbarians in their attack on Delphi, and claim that for this Greece ought to be grateful to you.

But if gratitude is owed to the Aetolians for this one service, what honor, and how great an honor, should be judged due to the Macedonians, who spend most of their lives never ceasing to fight the barbarians for the safety of the Greeks?

For who does not know that Greek affairs would always have been in great danger if we had not possessed the Macedonians as a barrier and the ambition of their kings?

And the clearest proof of this is that, as soon as the Gauls learned to despise the Macedonians after defeating Ptolemy called Ceraunus, they at once despised the rest as well, and Brennus marched with his army straight into central Greece. And this would often have happened if the Macedonians had not stood in the way.

Still, though I could say much about past events, I think this is enough.

Yet of all Philip's acts, these men chose to reproach him with the destruction of a temple as evidence of impiety, without adding a word about their own outrage and lawlessness in what they did to the temples and sacred precincts at Dium and Dodona.

That was the first thing that ought to have been said. But the wrongs you yourselves suffered you recount to these men at length, exaggerating what happened, while the many times greater wrongs that you committed first you pass over in silence, well knowing that everyone always lays the blame for acts of violence and damage upon those who first set their hands to unjust deeds.

Chapter 36 Sparta Should Have Allied Herself with the Macedonians

I wish to mention Antigonus only so far as not to seem to despise what happened or to treat so great a deed as a side issue.

For my own part, I do not believe that any greater benefaction than the one Antigonus conferred on you is even recorded in history; indeed, the deed seems to me beyond all comparison.

And one may see this from the facts. Antigonus went to war with you and afterward defeated you in battle. By force of arms he became master of both your territory and your city.

He might have exercised all the rights of war. Yet so far was he from doing anything terrible against you that, besides other acts, he expelled the tyrant and restored your laws and ancestral constitution.

In return, at the common festivals, calling the Greeks as witnesses, you yourselves proclaimed Antigonus your benefactor and savior.

What, then, ought you to have done? I will say what seems true, gentlemen; and you, I trust, will bear with me. For I say this now not from any desire to heap insults on you without cause, but because the pressure of events forces me to speak for the common good.

What do I mean? That both in the previous war you ought to have allied yourselves not with the Aetolians but with the Macedonians, and that now too, when invited, you ought to attach yourselves to Philip rather than to these men.

Yes, by Zeus—but then you would be violating treaties.

And which would be the worse thing to do: to disregard the private agreements you have made with the Aetolians, or the arrangements ratified before all the Greeks and consecrated on a public stele?

And how is it that you shrink from breaking with these men, from whom you have received no prior benefit, while you feel no shame toward Philip and the Macedonians, through whom you possess even the power to deliberate at all today?

Or do you think it necessary to do what is just toward friends?

Yet it is not so holy a thing to keep written pledges secure as it is unholy to make war on those who saved you—and that is exactly what the Aetolians have now come here to urge you to do.

Chapter 37 A Mighty Cloud is Coming From the West

Let what I have said be granted for the moment, even if stricter judges decide it lies outside the immediate issue. I will return to the central point, as these men define it.

Their point was this: if circumstances now are the same as when you made your alliance with them, then your own policy ought to remain as it is now; for that was their starting principle.

But if the situation has been completely altered, then it is just that you should now deliberate afresh about what is being urged upon you.

So I ask you, Cleonicus and Chlaeneas, what allies did you have when you first invited these men into joint action? Was it not all the Greeks?

And with whom do you now share your hopes, or into what alliance are you now calling them?

Is it not into an alliance with barbarians? You seem to think the present circumstances are exactly like the former ones, though in fact they are the opposite.

Then you were contending for leadership and prestige against the Achaeans and Macedonians, men of your own race, and against Philip their leader. But now war confronts the Greeks over the issue of slavery, against men of another race.

You think you are drawing these people in against Philip, but you do not realize that you have drawn them in against yourselves and against all Greece.

For just as men in wartime, by bringing into their cities garrisons stronger than their own forces for the sake of safety, both ward off the fear that comes from enemies and at the same time make themselves subject to the power of their friends, so the Aetolians are acting now.

Desiring to prevail over Philip and humble the Macedonians, they have failed to notice that they have drawn in from the west so great a cloud that, for the present, it may first cast its shadow over Macedonia, but in the end will become the cause of great evils for all Greece.

Chapter 38 Contrast of the Aetolian Policy

All Greeks, then, ought to foresee the crisis that is coming, but the Lacedaemonians above all.

For why do you suppose, men of Lacedaemon, that when Xerxes sent an envoy to you demanding earth and water, your ancestors threw him into a well and, tossing earth on top of him, told him to report back to Xerxes that from the Lacedaemonians he had received exactly what he demanded—earth and water?

And why again did Leonidas and his men set out willingly and openly to die?

Was it not so that they might seem to risk themselves in advance not only for their own freedom, but also for that of the rest of the Greeks?

It would indeed be worthy of the descendants of such men, and now in your present condition, to make an alliance with barbarians, march with them, and make war on Epirotes, Achaeans, Acarnanians, Boeotians, Thessalians—in short, on nearly all the Greeks except the Aetolians.

For the Aetolians it is their custom to do such things and to regard nothing as shameful so long as there is some profit in it. But that is not your way.

And what are we to expect these men to do now that they have taken the Romans into alliance?

Why, when they gained strength and support from the Illyrians, they at once set about attacking Pylus by sea, by force and in breach of treaty, while on land they besieged the city of Cleitor and enslaved the people of Cynaetha.

Earlier too, as I said above, these same men made agreements with Antigonus against the Achaean and Acarnanian peoples; and now they have made an agreement with the Romans against all Greece.

Chapter 39 Sparta Must Be On Guard Against Attack from Rome

Who, on hearing these facts, would not both be suspicious of the Roman advance and hate the recklessness of the Aetolians for daring to make such treaties?

Already they have stripped the Acarnanians of Oeniadae and Nesus; and quite recently they seized the city of the unfortunate Anticyreans, enslaving it together with the Romans.

The Romans carry off the children and women, who will plainly suffer the usual fate of those who fall under the power of foreigners; while the Aetolians inherit the lands of the unfortunate victims.

A fine alliance indeed this is to join by deliberate choice—especially for Lacedaemonians, who once decreed that the Thebans, because alone among the Greeks they had resolved, under compulsion, to remain quiet during the Persian invasion, should pay a tithe to the gods after the barbarians had been defeated in war.

The honorable and fitting course for you, men of Lacedaemon, is to remember your ancestors, to beware the Roman advance, to suspect the wicked enterprise of the Aetolians, and above all to remember what Antigonus did for you; then even now show your hatred of baseness, turn away from friendship with the Aetolians, and share the same hopes as the Achaeans and Macedonians.

But if some of the more powerful men among you oppose this, then at least incline toward neutrality and do not take part in the wrongdoing of these Aetolians.

Chapter 40 Philip in Thessaly

For the Athenian city always wishes to preserve that kind of character.

For zeal shown by friends at the right moment gives great help, but if it drags behind and comes too late it makes assistance altogether useless.

At least if they wish to keep their alliance not merely in writing, but in deeds as well [...]

The Acarnanians, when they learned of the Aetolian attack against them, partly despairing in their expectations and partly fighting with their anger, came to a terrible resolve.

If any man, left alive, should fail to die but instead flee the danger, he was not to be admitted into any city or given fire to kindle.

And they uttered curses against all alike, but most of all against the Epirotes, so that no one who fled should be received in their land.

Chapter 41 Investment of Echinus by Philip

Having decided to make his approach to the city opposite two towers, Philip constructed in front of them tortoise-shelters for earthworks and battering rams, and opposite the space between the towers he built a covered gallery between the rams running parallel to the wall.

When this design was completed, the outward appearance of the works came to resemble the arrangement of the city wall itself.

For the structures built on top of the tortoises took on the form and appearance of towers because of the way the wicker screens were fitted together, while the space between them looked like a wall because the upper wickerwork of the gallery had been woven into battlements.

In the lower part of the towers, the men who were filling in the uneven ground so that the ram-frames could advance kept throwing in earth, and the battering ram itself was pushed forward.

The second level contained jars of water, the equipment needed to fight fires, and the artillery besides.

On the third stood a large number of men posted to fight those who tried to damage the ram; and these were level in height with the towers of the city.

From the gallery between the towers double trenches were carried forward toward the space between the city towers.

And there were three artillery positions for stone-throwers, one of which discharged stones of a talent's weight, while the other two threw stones of thirty minas.

From the camp to the earthwork-tortoises roofed tunnels had been made, so that neither those coming from the camp to the works nor those returning from the works would suffer any harm from missiles shot from the city.

In very few days the entire work was completed, because the region had abundant supplies for everything needed in the operation.

For the Echinaians dwell on the Melian Gulf, facing south, opposite the territory of the Thronians, and they cultivate exceptionally fertile land. For this reason Philip lacked nothing needed for his assault.

And so, as I said, once the works were complete, they immediately brought up both the trenchworks and the siege engines.

Chapter 42 Asia and Egypt

Publius, the Roman commander, and Dorimachus, the Aetolian leader, arrived while Philip was besieging the city of Echinus, after he had secured his approaches to the wall well and fortified the outer face of his camp with trench and wall.

Publius came with a fleet and Dorimachus with infantry and cavalry, and when they attacked the entrenchment they were repulsed, since Philip fought the more vigorously.

The people of Echinus therefore despaired and surrendered themselves to Philip.

For Dorimachus and his force were unable, through lack of supplies, to reduce Philip, who was provisioning himself by sea.

When Aegina was taken by the Romans, the Aeginetans who had not escaped gathered by the ships and begged the commander to permit them to send envoys to kindred cities to arrange ransom.

At first Publius answered harshly, saying that when they were still masters of themselves, then was the time to send embassies to their betters about their safety—not now, when they had become slaves.

And if, a little before, they had not thought ambassadors sent by him worthy even of a hearing, how was it not absurd that now, when they were captives, they should demand to send envoys to their kinsmen?

So on that occasion he sent them away with those words. But on the following day he called all the prisoners together and said that he owed the Aeginetans no kindness; nevertheless, for the sake of the rest of the Greeks, he granted them leave to send envoys about ransom, since that was their custom.

Chapter 43 Nature of the Euphrates River

For the Euphrates takes its beginning in Armenia and flows through Syria and the lands beyond toward Babylonia.

It seems to discharge itself into the Red Sea, but that is not in fact so. Its waters are spent first on the channels led out into the countryside before it can make an outlet into the sea.

Thus it turns out that this river has a nature contrary to that of most rivers. Most streams grow larger the farther they pass through more regions, and they are highest in winter and lowest at the height of summer.

But the Euphrates is fullest at the rising of the Dog Star and greatest in the Syrian regions, and then continually grows smaller as it advances.

The reason is that its increase does not come from the gathering of winter rains, but from the melting of snow, while its decrease comes from the diversions made into the country and from its division for irrigation.

That is why on that occasion the transport of the army was slow: the boats were heavily loaded, the river was at its lowest, and the force of the current contributed only very little to the voyage.

Chapter 44 Goodwill in Allies and Universal History

Those who enter upon undertakings without goodwill and zeal are not likely to prove true allies when the actions themselves arrive.

And it is true, as I have often said, that it is impossible to comprehend or grasp in the mind the finest spectacle in history—I mean the ordering of events as a whole—from writers who record only separate actions.

Chapter 45 Cyathus, Arsinoe, Xynia, and Phorunna

Polybius in the ninth book of his Histories also records a river called Cyathus near the city of Arsinoe in Aetolia.

Arsinoe is a city of Libya. [...] The ethnic is Arsinoites, and in the Aetolian case Arsinoeus, as Polybius says in the ninth book.

Xynia is a city of Thessaly. Polybius mentions it in the ninth book. Phorunna is a city of Thrace: Polybius mentions it in the ninth book.

Book X

Publius Cornelius Scipio directing the amphibious assault across the low-tide lagoon at New Carthage (209 BC). Book X, 8–15.

Chapter 1 The Hannibalian War — The Recovery of Tarentum

The distance from the strait and the city of Rhegium to Tarentum is more than two thousand stades, and as a result this whole side of Italy has no harbor at all except those at Tarentum.

It faces the Sicilian Sea, leans toward the regions opposite Greece, and contains both the most populous non-Greek peoples and the most distinguished Greek cities.

For the Bruttians, the Lucanians, and parts of the Daunians live in this quarter of Italy, as do the Calabrians and many other peoples besides.

Likewise among the Greek cities, Rhegium, Caulonia, Locri, Croton, Metapontum, and Thurii occupy this coast.

So anyone sailing either from Sicily or from Greece to any one of the places just named is necessarily driven to put in at the harbors of Tarentum, and it is in that city that exchanges and commercial business are carried on with all who inhabit this side of Italy.

One may judge the convenience of the place from the prosperity once enjoyed by the people of Croton. Though they had only summer anchorages and a very limited place for landing, they seem to have acquired great wealth for no other reason than the natural advantage of their position—yet it is not even worth comparing that with the harbors and site of Tarentum.

Tarentum was also well placed in relation to the harbors of the Adriatic, and formerly it was even more so.

For from the Iapygian promontory as far as Sipontum, everyone who crossed over from the opposite shore and made landfall in Italy used to make Tarentum the crossing-point and used that city as a trading center for exchange and transfer of goods.

At that time Brundisium had not yet been founded.

That is why Fabius, attaching great importance to the enterprise, set all other matters aside and concentrated his planning on this one region.

Chapter 2 Publius Cornelius Scipio Africanus in Spain, 210–206 BC. His Character

Since I am about to relate the deeds performed by Publius in Iberia, and indeed the whole series of actions he accomplished in his life, I think it necessary first to prepare my readers by explaining the man's character and natural bent.

For because he became almost the most illustrious man of all his predecessors, everyone wants to know what sort of man he was and what kind of nature or training enabled him to carry through so many and such great achievements.

Yet they are forced into ignorance and false opinions because those who tell his story have trifled with the truth.

That what I now say is sound will become clear from my own account to anyone able to notice what was finest and boldest in his actions.

All the other writers present him as some favorite of fortune, a man who for the most part succeeded unexpectedly and by pure chance in the designs he undertook.

They imagine such men to be more divine and more wonderful than those who act rationally in each case, not understanding that of the two, the one is merely fortunate while the other deserves praise.

Good luck may belong even to ordinary men, but what deserves praise belongs only to men of sound judgment and intelligence; and those are the men we ought to regard as most godlike and most beloved by the gods.

To my mind Publius had a nature and purpose very like Lycurgus, the lawgiver of the Spartans.

For we should not suppose that Lycurgus organized the Spartan constitution out of superstition and by paying attention to every oracle from Delphi, any more than we should think that Publius won so great an empire for his country by relying on dreams and omens.

Rather, both men saw that most people neither readily accept what is extraordinary nor dare to face danger without some hope derived from the gods.

So Lycurgus continually attached the authority of the Pythia to his own plans and thereby made his ideas more acceptable and more trustworthy.

Publius acted in much the same way, always creating among the common people the impression that his plans were formed under some divine inspiration, and by this he made those under his command bolder and readier to face the dangers of action.

But that he did everything with calculation and foresight, and that the outcomes of his enterprises always came about according to reason, will be clear from what follows.

Chapter 3 Scipio's First Brilliant Success

That he was generous and high-minded is generally admitted; but that he was keen in intelligence, self-possessed, and wholly intent in mind upon the object before him, no one would readily grant except those who lived with him and saw his character in full daylight, so to speak.

One of these was Gaius Laelius, who from youth to the end of his life shared in all his actions and conversations. It was he who gave me this view of Publius, because what he said seemed both likely in itself and consistent with the man's actual deeds.

He said that Publius' first notable exploit came when his father fought the cavalry engagement against Hannibal near the river called the Po.

At that time, apparently, he was in his seventeenth year and was serving his first campaign in the field. His father had assigned him a troop of picked horsemen for protection; but when in the crisis of the battle he saw his father surrounded by the enemy with only two or three cavalrymen beside him and dangerously wounded, he first tried to urge those with him to go help his father.

When they shrank back in fear because of the number of enemies massed around him, he himself, it seems, charged recklessly and boldly into the men encircling his father.

Then, once the others too were compelled to charge in, the enemy, struck with panic, opened their ranks, and Publius the elder, saved beyond all expectation, was the first to hail his son as his savior in the hearing of all.

After winning an acknowledged reputation for courage through this exploit, he henceforth always gave himself without reserve to personal danger whenever his country placed the hopes of all upon him. That is the mark not of a commander trusting to luck, but of one with a mind fit to lead.

Chapter 4 His Election To the Aedileship

After this, when he had an elder brother, Lucius, and Lucius was standing for the aedileship—which among the Romans is considered almost the most distinguished office open to a young man— and when it was customary for two patricians to be chosen, while on this occasion several candidates were seeking the office, Publius for a long time did not dare to stand for the same magistracy as his brother.

But as the election drew near, judging from the temper of the crowd that his brother would not easily gain the office, and seeing that the people felt great goodwill toward himself, he concluded that Lucius could achieve his aim only if the two of them made their bid together in full agreement. So he devised the following plan.

He saw his mother going about the temples and sacrificing to the gods for his brother, full of expectation about the outcome; and she was the only parent whose feelings mattered to him at the time— for his father had by then sailed to Iberia after being appointed general for the operations already described. So he told his mother that he had now seen the same dream twice.

In the dream, he said, he and his brother had both been elected aediles and were coming up from the Forum toward their house, when she met them at the doorway and embraced and kissed them.

She at once reacted as women often do and cried out, “If only I might live to see that day!”

“Mother,” he said, “shall we put it to the test?” When she agreed, supposing that he would never really dare but was only joking in the moment—for he was still very young—he asked her at once to prepare for him a splendid toga, since that is the customary dress for candidates seeking office.

Chapter 5 Publius and Lucius Become Aediles

His mother gave no further thought to what he had said, but Publius, after getting the splendid candidate’s dress first, went to the Forum while she was still asleep.

The crowd, astonished both by the unexpectedness of it and by the goodwill they already felt toward him, welcomed him enthusiastically; and when he stepped forward to the appointed place and stood beside his brother, the people not only invested Publius with the office, but because of him gave it to his brother as well, and so both of them came back to the house as elected aediles.

When the news suddenly reached their mother, she ran in delight to meet them at the doorway and embraced the young men with overflowing joy.

So to everyone who had previously heard of the dream, Publius seemed to have spoken with the gods not only in sleep, but even more in waking life and broad daylight.

In fact there had been no dream at all. He was simply kind, generous, and winning in his manner, and he had calculated from this the goodwill the crowd felt toward him.

Then, by fitting his move shrewdly both to the mood of the people and to his mother’s expectations, he not only achieved his purpose but also appeared to be acting under some divine prompting.

For those who cannot accurately observe occasions, causes, and the disposition of each situation—whether through dullness of nature, or through inexperience and laziness—attribute to the gods and to fortune things that are actually accomplished by intelligence, calculation, and foresight.

I have said this for the sake of my readers, so that they may not be swept along by the common but false opinion about him and so pass over the noblest and finest of his qualities—I mean his resourcefulness and his tireless energy.

This will become even clearer from his actual deeds.

Chapter 6 Speech of Publius Scipio to the Soldiers

When the forces had been assembled, he urged them not to be cast down by the disaster that had already happened.

Romans, he said, had never been defeated by Carthaginians in courage, but only through the treachery of the Celtiberians and through rashness, when the generals had been cut off from one another because they trusted the alliance of those peoples.

Now, however, both of those disadvantages belonged to the enemy. Their camps were widely separated from each other, and by treating their allies with arrogance they had estranged them all and made them hostile to themselves.

That was why some were already sending messages to the Romans, while the rest, as soon as they took heart and saw them across the river, would gladly come over—not so much out of goodwill toward Rome as from eagerness to punish Carthaginian outrage.

Most important of all, the enemy commanders were quarreling among themselves and would not choose to fight against the Romans all together; if forced to face danger separately, they would be easy enough to handle.

With these facts in view, he urged the men to cross the river confidently; as for what was to come afterward, he said that he and the other commanders would take care of it.

After saying this, he left Marcus, his colleague, with three thousand infantry and five hundred cavalry to wait by the crossing and support the allies on the near side of the river; he himself took the rest of the army across, keeping his true purpose hidden from everyone.

For he had decided to do none of the things he had publicly spoken of, but instead intended to attempt a sudden siege of the city in Iberia called Carthage.

This may be taken as the first and greatest proof of the judgment I have just described.

At only twenty-seven years of age, he first committed himself to an enterprise which, because of the scale of previous disasters, most people regarded as entirely hopeless.

Second, once he had undertaken it, he passed over the obvious and commonplace measures that everyone could see and instead devised and proposed actions that neither the enemy [...].

None of this was done apart from the most exact calculation.

Chapter 7 He Determines To Attack New Carthage

From the very beginning, while still at Rome, he investigated carefully and learned about the treachery of the Celtiberians and the separation of the Roman camps, and from this he reasoned that the disaster that had overtaken his father had happened because of exactly those causes.

So he was not terrified by the Carthaginians, nor was his spirit broken as happened with most men.

Later, when he heard that the allies north of the Ebro remained loyal to Rome, while the Carthaginian commanders were quarreling among themselves and abusing the peoples under their rule, he felt

confident about the expedition, trusting not in luck but in his own reasoning.

And when he arrived in Iberia, stirring everyone up and asking each person what he knew about the enemy, he discovered that the Carthaginian forces had been divided into three parts.

He learned that Mago was staying this side of the Pillars of Heracles among the people called the Conii, that Hasdrubal son of Gisco was near the mouth of the Tagus in Lusitania, and that the other Hasdrubal was besieging a certain city among the Carpetani; and none of them, he found, was less than a ten days' march from New Carthage.

He therefore judged that, if he decided to engage the enemy in open battle, it would be altogether too dangerous to risk fighting all three at once, both because his predecessors had been defeated and because the enemy greatly outnumbered him.

But if he hurried to fight one of them and that commander avoided battle, while the other forces came up and enclosed him somewhere, he feared lest the same disasters that had fallen on his uncle Gnaeus and his father Publius might happen to him as well.

Chapter 8 Why New Carthage is a Desirable Target

So he rejected that course. But when he learned that the Carthage just mentioned was of the greatest importance to the enemy and at the same time was doing him the greatest harm in the present war, he spent the winter investigating every detail about it through men who knew the place.

First he heard that it alone, or almost alone, among the cities of Iberia possessed harbors suitable for a fleet and naval forces, and that for the Carthaginians it was extremely well situated for the voyage across the open sea from Libya.

Next, he learned that the Carthaginians kept there the bulk of their money and all the baggage of their armies, and also the hostages from the whole of Iberia.

Most important of all, the fighting men guarding the citadel numbered about a thousand, because no one could possibly imagine that, while the Carthaginians held almost all Iberia, anyone would so much as conceive the idea of besieging that city.

As for the rest of the population, although it was very large, it consisted entirely of craftsmen, laborers, and seafaring people, men far removed from military experience; and he judged that this would actually tell against the city if an enemy appeared unexpectedly.

Nor was he ignorant of the position of Carthage, its fortifications, or the character of the lagoon surrounding it.

Through certain fishermen familiar with those waters he found out that the lagoon was generally muddy and for the most part fordable, and that toward late afternoon it usually receded each day.

From all this he reasoned that, if he succeeded in the attempt, he would not only damage the enemy but also bring great advantage to his own cause.

And even if he failed in his design, he believed he could still save his men because he controlled the sea, provided that once he arrived he secured his camp—and this would be easy, since the enemy forces were drawn off far away.

So, setting every other concern aside, he devoted himself wholly to this enterprise.

Chapter 9 Laelius and Scipio Proceed to New Carthage

He made all his preparations during the winter. Though the plan he had conceived was so bold, and though he was of the age I have just mentioned, he kept it hidden from everyone except Gaius Laelius until he himself judged it time to reveal it.

Yet although historians agree that these calculations were his, once they come to the successful outcome of the operation they somehow cease to credit the man and his foresight and instead assign the success to the gods and to fortune.

And this despite probability, despite the testimony of those who lived with him, and despite the fact that Publius himself clearly stated in a letter to Philip that it was by using the very calculations I have just set out that he undertook both the Iberian campaign as a whole and, in particular, the siege of Carthage.

At that time, then, he gave secret orders to Gaius Laelius, commander of the fleet, to sail against the city I have mentioned.

For Laelius alone knew his design, as I said above.

He himself took the land forces and marched in haste. He had with him twenty-five thousand infantry and two thousand five hundred cavalry.

Arriving on the seventh day, he encamped on the northern side of the city and fortified the outer face of his camp with a double ditch and palisade running from sea to sea, but on the side toward the city he made no fortification at all, since the nature of the place itself gave him sufficient security.

Since I am about to describe both the siege and the capture of the city, I think it necessary to indicate for my readers, at least in outline, the surrounding country and the position of the place itself.

Chapter 10 Topography of New Carthage

It lies about halfway along the coast of Iberia in a gulf that opens toward the southwest. The gulf extends about twenty stades inland and is about ten stades wide at its entrance; and the whole gulf takes on the character of a harbor for the following reason.

An island lies at its mouth, leaving only a narrow entrance on each side.

Because this island receives the force of the open sea, the whole gulf remains calm, except when southwest winds, driving in through either channel, raise a swell.

With all other winds it is free from surf because the surrounding land encloses it.

At the inner end of the gulf there projects a hill, almost like a peninsula, on which the city stands. It is enclosed by the sea on the east and south, and on the west by a lagoon that also reaches round toward the north.

So the remaining strip of ground as far as the sea on the other side—the strip that joins the city to the mainland—is no more than two stades across.

The city itself lies in a hollow. On the southern side it has a level approach from the sea, but on the other sides it is enclosed by hills, two of them steep and rugged, the other three much lower but rocky and difficult to climb.

The largest of these lies to the east of the city and stretches out toward the sea; on it stands a temple of Asclepius.

Opposite it on the west is the [...] hill, in a corresponding position, on which a richly built palace stands, said to have been made by Hasdrubal when he was aiming at monarchical power.

The remaining three lower hills enclose the city on the north.

Of these three, the one sloping eastward is called the Hill of Hephaestus; next to it is that of Aletes—who, it seems, received honors equal to those of the gods because he discovered the silver mines—and the third is called the Hill of Cronus.

The lagoon has been artificially connected with the neighboring sea for the use of seafaring people.

And over the opening cut through the bank between them a bridge has been built, so that pack animals and carts can carry in the necessities brought from the countryside.

Chapter 11 Scipio Briefs His Troops

Given this arrangement of the terrain, the Romans' camp on its inner side was secured without any artificial work by the lagoon and the sea beyond it.

He left unfenced the strip of ground between them that joined the city to the mainland and lay opposite the middle of his camp, either to overawe the enemy or because the arrangement suited his plan, so that he might have unimpeded movement both when sending troops out and when drawing them back into camp.

The city wall had formerly had a circuit of not more than twenty stades—though I know many have said forty; that is false, and I speak not from hearsay but from personal inspection—and in our own day it has been reduced still further.

When the fleet also arrived at the proper time, Publius decided to gather the troops and encourage them, using not some other set of arguments but the very reasoning by which he had persuaded himself, and which I have just explained in detail.

After showing that the undertaking was feasible and summing up how their success would weaken the enemy and strengthen their own position, he went on to promise golden crowns to the first men who mounted the wall, and the customary rewards to those who showed distinguished bravery.

Finally he said that Poseidon had appeared to him in a dream at the very beginning and had indicated this enterprise to him, promising that at the actual moment of action he would cooperate in so visible a way that the whole army would plainly recognize his help.

This appeal, blending exact reasoning with promises of golden crowns and, beyond all, the providence of a god, aroused great eagerness and zeal among the young soldiers.

Chapter 12 The Attack On New Carthage Begun

On the next day he stationed ships fitted with every kind of missile along the places accessible from the sea, giving the command to Gaius; on land he assigned about two thousand of the strongest men to accompany the ladder-carriers and began the siege at the third hour.

Mago, who had charge of the city, divided the force of a thousand men under him: half he left on the citadel, and the rest he posted on the eastern hill.

Of the remaining inhabitants he armed about two thousand of the strongest with whatever weapons were available in the city and stationed them at the gate leading to the isthmus and the enemy camp, while ordering the rest to help wherever they could along every part of the wall.

As soon as Publius gave the signal for the assault by trumpet, Mago sent these armed men out through the gate, convinced that he would terrify the enemy and altogether break up their attack.

When they charged boldly against the Romans drawn up along the isthmus in front of the camp, a fierce battle began, with a hard-fought shouting match on both sides, each side encouraged by its own men—the Romans by those in the camp, the Carthaginians by those in the city.

But the help brought up by reserves was not equal, since for the Carthaginians reinforcement had to come out through a single gate and from nearly two stades away, whereas the Romans had their support close at hand and across a broad front. For this reason the battle was uneven.

Publius had deliberately stationed his men close to the camp in order to draw the enemy as far out as possible, clearly knowing that if he destroyed these men, who were like the cutting edge of the city's

population, the whole body would lose heart and no one inside would dare to come out of the gate again.

For a while the fighting remained evenly matched, since picked men on both sides had been chosen for the struggle. But at last the Carthaginians were forced back by sheer weight because fresh troops kept coming in from the Roman camp, and they turned to flight.

Many of them were killed in the battle itself and in the retreat, but most of all they were crushed by one another as they jammed into the gate.

When that happened, the whole crowd inside the city was so panic-stricken that even the men on the walls fled.

So the Romans came very close at that moment to bursting in together with the fugitives; in any case, they were able to plant their ladders against the wall in complete safety.

Chapter 13 Double Assault By The Romans

Publius threw himself into the danger, yet he did so with as much safety as circumstances allowed.

For he had with him three men carrying shields, who set them in place and screened him from the line of the wall, thus providing him protection.

So by moving along the flanks and the higher ground he contributed greatly to what was needed.

He could both see what was happening and, by being seen by everyone himself, inspire zeal in those engaged in the struggle.

As a result, nothing necessary for the crisis was left undone; whenever the moment indicated that something was needed for the task at hand, it was always immediately supplied.

Now when the foremost men boldly began the ascent on the ladders, it was not so much the number of the defenders as the sheer height of the walls that made the assault dangerous.

For that reason the defenders on the walls took even more courage, seeing the distress into which the attackers were falling.

Some ladders broke because so many men were mounting them at once on account of their great length; on others, the first climbers became dizzy from the height and, with very little resistance from the defenders, flung themselves from the ladders.

And when the defenders tried hurling down beams or anything of that kind from the battlements, the assailants all at once recoiled and were driven to the ground.

Yet even when such obstacles arose, nothing was enough to check the onward rush and fury of the Romans; as soon as the front men fell, those behind stepped into the space left open.

But when the day had already advanced and the soldiers were exhausted by the hardship, the general sounded a recall with the trumpets for those making the assault.

Chapter 14 Scipio Creates a Distraction

The men inside the city were overjoyed, believing that they had beaten off the danger.

But Publius, expecting that the time of the ebb was now approaching, prepared five hundred men with ladders by the lagoon.

At the gate and along the isthmus he refreshed the soldiers, encouraged them, and supplied more ladders than before, so that the wall was again packed continuously with men mounting it.

And when the signal for battle was given and they set the ladders against the wall and began climbing boldly at every point, great confusion and panic arose among those inside.

For just when they thought they had been freed from the pressure, they saw the danger beginning all over again in a fresh assault.

At the same time their missiles were already giving out, and the loss of so many men had driven them into discouragement; though distressed by what was happening, they still defended themselves as best they could.

At the very height of the struggle on the ladders, the ebb began.

The water little by little left the edges of the lagoon, and through the mouth the current poured strongly and in a mass into the sea beyond, so that to those who saw it without forethought the sight seemed unbelievable.

Publius, with guides ready, urged the men prepared for this task to enter the water and take courage.

For he was naturally gifted, if in anything, in the power to inspire boldness and make those he addressed share his confidence.

So when they obeyed and raced one another through the marsh, the whole camp supposed that what was happening came from some divine providence.

Remembering what had been said about Poseidon and Publius' promise in his address, they were so fired in spirit that, locking shields together and forcing their way up to the gate from outside, they tried to chop through the doors with axes and hatchets.

Meanwhile those who had come through the marsh reached the wall, found the battlements deserted, not only set up the ladders safely, but climbed up and took possession of the wall without a fight.

For the defenders inside were distracted by the attacks elsewhere, especially those on the isthmus and at the gate there, and had never expected that the enemy would come near the wall on the side of the

lagoon.

Most of all, the confused shouting and the mixed tumult of the crowd prevented them from either hearing or seeing anything they needed to do.

Chapter 15 New Carthage Captured and Looted

Once the Romans had gained control of the wall, they first moved along the circuit, pushing off the enemy as they went, their equipment being especially useful for that kind of work.

But when they came to the gate, some climbed down and cut through the bars, others burst in from outside, and those who were forcing their way up the ladders toward the isthmus, now getting the better of the defenders, took possession of the battlements.

In this way the walls were finally taken, while the men who entered through the gate captured the hill to the east, after routing the guards stationed there.

When Publius judged that enough troops had now entered, he let most of them loose against those inside the city, according to Roman custom, ordering them to kill everyone they met and spare no one, and not to turn to plunder until the signal was given.

I think they do this to strike terror. That is why in cities captured by the Romans one may often see not only human beings lying slaughtered, but even dogs cut in half and the limbs of other animals hacked off.

On this occasion such slaughter was especially great because of the large numbers caught in the city.

Publius himself, with about a thousand men, advanced against the citadel. When he came near, Mago at first tried to defend it, but then, realizing clearly that the city had now been taken for good, sent to ask for his own safety and surrendered the citadel.

When this had happened and the signal was given, the men stopped killing and turned to plunder.

When night came, those to whom it had been assigned remained in camp; the general himself bivouacked on the citadel with the thousand men, while the rest he had called out of the houses through the tribunes and ordered to gather all the booty in the marketplace by standards and sleep there beside it.

He then summoned the light-armed troops from the camp and posted them on the eastern hill.

Chapter 16 How the Romans Distribute Booty

As for Carthage in Iberia, this, then, is how the Romans became masters of it. On the next day, when the baggage of those who had served with the Carthaginian armies, along with the property of the

townsmen and the artisans, had been collected in the marketplace, the tribunes divided it among the several camps according to Roman custom.

The Roman method in capturing cities is somewhat as follows. Sometimes a certain number of men from each maniple are assigned to the task, according to the size of the city; sometimes whole maniples are assigned in turn.

But never are more than half the men detailed for this work. The rest remain in their ranks as a reserve, sometimes outside the city and sometimes inside, always ready for whatever is indicated.

Since their force is for the most part divided into two Roman camps and two allied camps, though sometimes and more rarely all four are assembled together, all who are assigned to plunder bring what they obtain back to their own camps.

Then, after the booty is sold, the tribunes distribute the proceeds equally to all, not only to those who stayed behind in reserve, but also to those guarding the tents, to the sick, and to those sent away on some service.

As for the rule that no one is to embezzle anything from the plunder, but must keep faith according to the oath which all swear when they first assemble in camp and are about to march into enemy territory, I have spoken of that more fully before in the discussion of the constitution.

So when half the army turns to plunder while the other half preserves the ranks and serves as reserve, the Romans never put the whole operation at risk through greed.

For since the hope of profit is not a matter of distrust between them, but stands equally open both to those remaining in reserve and to those doing the plundering, no one abandons his rank.

Chapter 17 Scipio's Treatment of the Prisoners

This is the thing that most often harms other armies. Since most men endure hardship and face danger for the sake of gain, it is obvious that when such an opportunity appears, those left in reserve or in camp can scarcely be expected to hold back, because among most peoples the common belief is that whatever a man seizes belongs to the one who took it.

For even if a king or careful general orders the profits to be brought into the common stock, everyone still thinks whatever he can conceal is his own.

So when the mass of soldiers rushes after plunder and cannot be controlled, whole armies are put in danger.

Indeed, many who have successfully carried out their attack—sometimes storming an enemy camp, sometimes taking a city—have not only been driven out again, but completely ruined, for no reason other than this.

That is why commanders ought to show more care and foresight about nothing else so much as this: that whenever such an occasion arises, the many should feel that the hope of profit stands equally open to all.

At that time, then, while the tribunes were occupied with the disposal of the spoils, the Roman general, when the whole number of prisoners had been assembled—it came to a little less than ten thousand—ordered them first to be separated into the citizen men and women and their children, and second, the craftsmen.

Once this had been done, he addressed the citizens, urged them to be well disposed toward Rome and remember the favor done them, and released them all to go back to their homes.

They departed weeping and rejoicing together at their unexpected deliverance, after bowing in reverence before the general.

To the craftsmen he said that for the present they were public property of Rome; but if each showed goodwill and zeal in his own craft, he promised them freedom once the war against the Carthaginians had been brought to a successful conclusion.

He ordered these men to be enrolled with the quaestor and appointed one Roman overseer for every thirty of them, their total number being about two thousand.

From the rest of the prisoners he selected the strongest, those in the prime of age and appearance, and assigned them to his crews.

In this way he increased all the sailors by one half and manned the captured ships too, so that on each vessel the number of men was now only a little short of double what it had previously been.

For the captured ships numbered eighteen, while those he had from the beginning were thirty-five.

To these men too he promised freedom on similar terms, if they showed loyalty and zeal until they had defeated the Carthaginians in the war.

By handling the prisoners in this way he inspired the citizens with strong goodwill and confidence both toward himself and toward Roman policy, while he stirred great eagerness in the craftsmen by the hope of freedom.

And by increasing his naval strength by half at just the right moment through his foresight—

Chapter 18 Scipio's Treatment of Women

After this he separated Mago and the Carthaginians who were with him. Of these, two belonged to the council of elders and fifteen to the senate.

He entrusted them to Gaius Laelius, ordering him to take proper care of the men.

Next he summoned the hostages, who were more than three hundred in number. He brought the children forward one by one, stroked them with his hand, and told them to take courage, because in a few days they would see their parents.

He urged all the rest together to be cheerful and to write letters to their own cities and relatives, first saying that they were safe and well treated, and second that the Romans wished to restore them all safely to their homes if their kinsmen chose alliance with Rome.

After saying this, and having previously selected from the spoils whatever would be most useful for his purpose, he distributed to each suitable gifts according to family and age: to the girls earrings and bracelets, to the young men daggers and swords.

Among the captive women, the wife of Mandonius—who was brother of Andobales, king of the Ilergetes—fell at his feet and with tears begged him to show more regard for their honor than the Carthaginians had done. Moved with sympathy, he asked what necessities they lacked.

For the woman was older and bore herself with a certain noble dignity.

When she said nothing, he called those who had been assigned to care for the women.

When they came and explained that all necessary provisions were being supplied to them in abundance, the woman again clasped his knees and repeated the same plea. Publius, now still more perplexed and suspecting that the appointed guardians were neglecting their duty and falsely reporting otherwise for the moment, told the women to take courage.

He himself, he said, would appoint others to look after them, so that they should lack nothing necessary.

After pausing a little, she said, “General, you do not understand what we are asking if you think it is food we now beg from you.”

Then at last Publius grasped the woman’s meaning, and as he saw before his eyes the youthful bloom of Andobales’ daughters and of many other noble maidens, he was compelled to weep, while the woman in a few words made clear the danger of their situation.

So he showed plainly at once that he understood what had been said, and taking her by the right hand told both her and the others to be of good courage.

He would take thought for them as though they were his own sisters and daughters, and would appoint trustworthy men to care for them in accordance with what he had promised.

Chapter 19 The Money

After this he handed over to the quaestors whatever public money of the Carthaginians had been captured.

This amounted to more than six hundred talents, so that when it was added to the four hundred he had brought with him from Rome, the entire sum of funds at his disposal came to more than a thousand talents.

At about this time some young Romans came upon a maiden in the full bloom of age and beauty, far surpassing the other women. Knowing that Publius was fond of women, they brought her to him and, placing her before him, said they gave the girl to him as a gift.

He was struck and amazed by her beauty, and said that if he had been a private man, he could have received no gift more pleasing than this; but as a general, none could have been less welcome.

By this answer, as it seems to me, he meant to suggest that while in times of rest and leisure such pleasures and pastimes may be among the sweetest delights for young men, in times of action they become very great hindrances both to body and mind.

So he thanked the young men, but called the girl's father and, giving her back into his hands, told him to marry her to whichever of her fellow citizens he chose.

Thus, by displaying both self-command and moderation, he won great admiration from those under his authority.

After settling these matters and handing over the rest of the prisoners to the tribunes, he sent Gaius Laelius to Rome on a quinquereme, entrusting to him the Carthaginians and the most distinguished of the other prisoners, to report at home what had taken place.

For since most people there had already given up hope of success in Iberia, he knew clearly that once this news was announced they would take heart again and support the enterprise with much greater vigor.

Chapter 20 Scipio's Training Regimen

He himself stayed for some time at Carthage and continually trained the naval forces, while he also laid down for the tribunes something like the following method for exercising the infantry camps.

On the first day he ordered them to run thirty stades in full armor; on the second, all were to clean, maintain, and inspect their equipment openly; on the next they were to rest and take their ease.

On the day after that some were to fence with wooden swords covered in leather and tipped with buttons, while others were to cast javelins with blunted heads; on the fifth day they were to return again to the same runs and begin the cycle from the start.

And so that there should be no lack either of weapons for practice or of those needed for actual war, he devoted the greatest care to the craftsmen.

He had assigned careful men over this work in divisions, as I said before; but he himself also made the rounds every day and personally saw to the supplies furnished to each group.

So while the infantry around the city were busy with drills and exercises, the naval forces with practice cruises and rowing at sea, and the people in the city sharpening, forging, carpentry work, and in general every sort of effort in the making of arms, no one who saw that city then, to use Xenophon's phrase, would have hesitated to call it a workshop of war.

And when he thought that everything had been well prepared and adequately exercised for the tasks ahead, he secured the city by garrisons and repairs to the walls, then broke camp with both army and fleet and advanced on the march toward Tarraco, taking the hostages with him.

Chapter 21 Philopoemen of Megalopolis

Euryleon, the Achaean general, was timid and unsuited to military action.

And now that the course of my narrative has brought me to the beginning of Philopoemen's deeds, I think it proper, just as I have tried to indicate the training and character of other notable men, to do something similar for him as well.

For it is absurd that historians should describe the foundations of cities—when, how, and by whom they were founded—and even set out their circumstances and difficulties in detail, yet keep silence about the upbringing and ambitions of the men who managed whole states, though this subject is of far greater importance.

For in proportion as one can be stirred more readily to emulation and imitation by living men than by lifeless constructions, in that same proportion the account of such men is more valuable for correcting and improving its hearers.

If I had not already composed a separate work about him, in which I explained who he was, what family he came from, and what principles guided him in youth, it would now be necessary to discuss each of those points.

But since I have already treated him in three books outside the present history, setting forth both his early education and his most distinguished deeds, it is plain that in the present narrative it is fitting to omit a detailed account of his youthful upbringing and ambitions, and instead to add in detail the achievements of his prime, which there were given only in summary, so that I may preserve the proper character of each work.

For just as that earlier composition, being encomiastic, required a condensed account of his actions with deliberate heightening, so history, which shares in both praise and blame, demands what is true, demonstrated, and accompanied by the reasoning that belongs to each action.

Chapter 22 His Birth and Education

Philopoemen, then, was well born to begin with, for he came from one of the most distinguished families in Arcadia. He was brought up and educated by Cleander of Mantinea, who had been his father's guest-friend and was at that time living in exile, but was one of the foremost men of the Mantineans.

When he came of age, he became a devoted follower of Ecdemus and Demophanes, men of Megalopolis by birth who, after fleeing from tyrants and spending their exile with the philosopher Arcesilaus, not only freed their own fatherland by plotting against Aristodemus the tyrant, but also helped to overthrow Nicocles, tyrant of Sicyon, by sharing in Aratus' enterprise; and later, when invited by the Cyrenaeans, they came forward in a brilliant way and preserved liberty for them as well.

Living for a long time in early youth with such men, Philopoemen immediately distinguished himself from his contemporaries both in endurance and daring on the hunt and in military exercises.

He was also careful and frugal in his way of life, having learned from those men the conviction that no one can lead public affairs well if he neglects his own private life, nor can anyone keep his hands off public property if he lives more extravagantly than his own means allow.

Later, when the Achaeans appointed him hipparch at the time in question, and he took over the cavalry squadrons in a state of complete ruin and the men utterly discouraged, he not only made them better than they had been themselves, but in a short time stronger than their enemies, by bringing them all into a regime of real training and purposeful ambition.

For most of those appointed to this office either, because of their own incompetence in cavalry matters, do not dare to command even what is necessary to those under them, or else, because they are aiming at the generalship, court the young men through this office and try to secure them as friendly supporters for the future, not rebuking where rebuke is needed—the very thing by which public interests are preserved—but covering over faults and, for the sake of a petty favor, greatly harming those who trust them.

And if ever some magistrates are both physically capable and eager to keep their hands off public wealth, even these often do more harm by misguided zeal to negligent infantrymen, and still more to cavalrymen.

Chapter 23 Philopoemen's Reforms

The maneuvers which he thought cavalry ought to become accustomed to, as suitable for every occasion, were these: for the individual horseman, wheeling to the rein and then back toward the spear side, and besides this turning right round and changing front; for the squadron, wheeling about, turning, and also making a wider turning movement; besides these, rapid deployments by troop and by double troop from either wing, and sometimes from the center, and then rallying again with a check

into troops, squadrons, and whole cavalry commands; and further, extension of the line on either wing, either by filling intervals or by carrying the rear ranks outward.

As for oblique movements, he said they needed no special drill, since they are almost the same as ordinary marching order.

After this, cavalry had to be drilled in charges against the enemy and in withdrawals in every sort of maneuver, to such a point that they could advance at tremendous speed, so long as they remained aligned side by side and in rank, while also preserving the proper intervals between squadrons.

For when cavalry breaks up its order in squadrons and then chooses to risk an engagement, nothing is more dangerous or more useless.

After laying these instructions before both the rank and file and their officers, he again went about the cities, examining first whether the men were carrying out the commands they had been given, and second whether the magistrates in each city had mastered the proper way to give those commands clearly and correctly.

For he judged that nothing was more necessary in practice than experienced leadership in the subordinate officers.

Chapter 24 How to Drill a Large Company

After making these preliminary arrangements in the way described, he assembled the cavalry from the cities into one place, and himself carried out the maneuvers and personally directed the whole handling of the drill.

He did not ride in front of them all, as commanders do nowadays, imagining that the foremost position is the proper one for a leader.

For what could be more unscientific and at the same time more dangerous in a commander than to be seen by all those under him while seeing none of them himself?

In such maneuvers a hipparch ought to display not military grandeur, but command experience and practical ability, placing himself sometimes in front, sometimes in the rear, and sometimes in the middle.

That is exactly what this man did, riding along the line and personally inspecting everyone, giving further explanation to those who were at a loss and correcting at once every mistake made at the beginning.

Such mistakes, however, were very few and infrequent because of the earlier care bestowed on each part of the training.

Demetrius of Phalerum has expressed the same principle in words, saying that just as in building, if each brick is laid individually and each course receives proper attention, so in an army, precision in each man and each company makes the whole force strong.

Chapter 25 Philip's Increasing Deterioration

For the present situation, he said, is very like the arrangement and handling of troops in battle.

In battle it is usually the light-armed and most active part of the force that first runs the risk and is first destroyed, while the phalanx and the heavily armed take the credit for the result.

So now in the same way the Aetolians and those Peloponnesians allied with them are the ones who run the danger, while the Romans remain in reserve, standing like a phalanx.

And if these allies fail and are destroyed, the Romans will simply turn away from the affair and go off unharmed.

But if they win—which may the gods prevent!—then together with them the Romans will bring the rest of the Greeks also under their power.

For every democratic alliance has great need of friendship and support because of the irrationality that arises among multitudes.

Chapter 26 Philip V

When King Philip of Macedon had finished presiding over the Nemean games, he returned again to Argos and laid aside the diadem and the purple robe, wishing to present himself as a man equal to the crowd, mild, and democratic.

But the more democratic the dress he put on, the greater and more monarchical was the power he claimed.

For he was no longer merely trying widows, nor content with seducing married women; any woman who pleased him he now summoned by direct order, and those who did not readily obey he insulted by leading drunken revels to their houses.

He would summon some women's sons and others' husbands on absurd pretexts and bully them, displaying great licentiousness and lawlessness.

And so, using the license he enjoyed while staying among them [...] without restraint, he distressed many of the Achaeans, and especially the respectable men among them.

Yet because war hemmed them in on every side, they were compelled to endure and bear what was against their nature.

No previous ruler, I think, possessed greater natural advantages for kingship than Philip, nor greater faults than this same king.

And it seems to me that his good qualities belonged to him by nature, while his bad ones came upon him as he advanced in age, just as some horses acquire faults as they grow old.

Though I do not, like other historians, put such judgments in prefaces, but rather fit the appropriate remarks to the events themselves whenever occasion calls and pronounce on kings and notable men there, because I think that is the more suitable method both for writer and reader.

Chapter 27 Medea and the Palace at Ecbatana

Media, then, is among the most important of the Asiatic kingdoms both in the size of its territory and in the number and quality of its men, and likewise of its horses.

For this country supplies almost all Asia with these animals, and the royal breeding establishments for horses are entrusted to the Medes because of the natural excellence of the land.

It is surrounded by Greek cities founded at Alexander's direction, to guard it against the neighboring barbarians, with the exception of Ecbatana.

This city is built in the northern parts of Media, opposite those regions of Asia that face the Maeotis and the Euxine.

It had originally been the royal residence of the Medes, and in wealth and magnificence of construction it seems to have greatly surpassed the other cities.

It lies under the foothills by Mount Orontes and has no wall, but within it possesses an artificial citadel, built with remarkable strength for defense.

Below this stands the royal palace, about which both speaking in detail and passing over in silence present certain difficulties.

For to those who like to produce astonishing narratives and are accustomed to describing things with amplification and show, the city offers a splendid subject; but to those who approach with caution anything that goes beyond common belief, it causes hesitation and embarrassment.

Still, the palace is in size almost seven stades in circuit, and in the costly splendor of its individual structures shows clearly how rich its original founders were.

For since all the timber was cedar and cypress, none of it was left bare: the beams, the ceiling-panels, and the columns in the porticoes and peristyles were sheathed, some with silver plates and others with gold, and all the roof-tiles were of silver.

Most of these had been stripped off during Alexander's invasion with the Macedonians, and the rest under the rule of Antigonus and Seleucus Nicator.

Yet even when Antiochus arrived, the temple itself, called that of Aene, still had the surrounding columns gilded, and a number of silver tiles were piled up within it; a few gold bricks remained, and more of silver.

From all these objects the coined royal money that was struck came to a sum little short of four thousand talents.

Chapter 28 Antiochus the Great In Media

Arsaces expected that Antiochus would come as far as these regions, but would not dare to push across the desert adjoining them with so large an army, especially because of the lack of water.

For no water appears on the surface in the district just mentioned, but there are many underground channels with well-shafts sunk through the desert, places unknown to those who lack experience of the country.

The true account handed down by the natives about these works is that in the days when the Persians ruled Asia, they granted to those who brought spring water into districts previously unirrigated the right to enjoy the land for five generations.

So, since Taurus sends down many large streams, men undertook every expense and hardship and from great distances built these underground channels, with the result that even in our own day those who use the water do not know where the channels originally receive their flow.

But when Arsaces saw that Antiochus was determined on the march through the desert, he then tried to fill in and destroy the wells.

The king, once this had been reported to him, sent out Nicomedes again with a thousand horse. They found that Arsaces had withdrawn with the main force, though some cavalrymen were destroying the mouths of the channels. Charging them at once, they routed them and forced them to flee, then returned to Antiochus.

The king crossed the desert and came to the city called Hecatompylos, which lies in the middle of Parthia; and because the roads leading to all the surrounding regions meet there, the place has received its name from that fact.

Chapter 29 Antiochus Moves into Hyrcania

After giving his army a rest there, Antiochus reasoned that if Arsaces had been able to decide matters by battle against him, he would neither have withdrawn from his own country nor have sought ground better suited to his own forces than that around Hecatompylos.

But since he was retreating, it was clear to anyone judging correctly that he had some other plan in mind. Antiochus therefore decided to advance into Hyrcania.

When he reached Tagae and learned from the natives how difficult the country was that he had to traverse until he should come to the ridges of Mount Labus descending into Hyrcania, and how many barbarians were posted at the difficult points, he resolved to array the light-armed troops and divide their officers according to the routes each section would need to take. He did the same with the workmen, who as they marched along were to make the ground seized by the light troops passable for the phalanx and the baggage animals.

Having formed this plan, he gave the first division to Diogenes, assigning him archers, slingers, and such mountain men as could throw javelins and stones—men who kept no fixed order, but were always engaging man by man as occasion and terrain required, and rendered the most practical service in rough country.

Behind these he ordered about two thousand Cretan shield-bearers under Polyxenidas of Rhodes, and in the rear mailed troops and thureophoroi under Nicomedes of Cos and Nicolaus the Aetolian.

Chapter 30 Fighting On Mount Labus

But as these men advanced, the ruggedness and narrowness of the ground proved far more difficult than the king had expected.

The whole ascent was about three hundred stades in length, and for most of that distance the march had to be made through a deep winter-torrent ravine, in which many rocks and trees hurled down naturally from the cliffs above had made the passage hard, while much more had been added by the barbarians for the same purpose.

For they had cut down continuous stretches of trees and piled up masses of enormous stones. They themselves occupied all along the gorge the advantageous heights from which they could both attack and remain secure; so that, if they had not made a mistake, Antiochus would have found the attempt wholly beyond his power and given it up.

They had prepared and occupied the ground on the assumption that the enemy would necessarily be forced to make the ascent by the gorge itself.

What they did not consider was that, while the phalanx and baggage indeed could only march as they supposed, the light-armed and active troops were not incapable of climbing by the bare rocks themselves.

So as soon as Diogenes and his men came up to the first outpost and made their ascent outside the ravine, the whole situation took on a different shape.

For the action itself immediately showed what had to be done: Diogenes' men, climbing above and working round on the flanks of the positions, got higher than the enemy and badly harassed the barbarians with showers of javelins and hand-thrown stones, while the slings did the greatest damage by striking from a distance.

And when they had forced back the first group and occupied their position, the workmen had an opportunity to clear away and smooth everything underfoot in safety. This was done quickly because of the number of hands.

In this way the slingers, archers, and javelin-men advanced over the heights in scattered order, sometimes gathering together and seizing the advantageous points, while the shield-bearers kept reserve and marched in formation and at a steady pace beside the ravine itself. The barbarians did not stand their ground, but all abandoned their positions and gathered on the summit.

Chapter 31 Antiochus Reaches Tambrax

In this way Antiochus and his men got safely through the difficult ground, though slowly and with effort, for they only reached the heights of Labus on the eighth day.

The barbarians had assembled there and were convinced they would stop the enemy from crossing, so a fierce struggle took place. The barbarians were driven out for the following reasons.

While massed together they fought boldly face to face against the phalanx; but during the night the light-armed troops had already made a wide circuit and occupied the higher ground and positions on their rear, and as soon as the barbarians saw what had happened they were at once terrified and turned to flight.

The king, however, with great urgency checked any prolonged pursuit by sounding recall with the trumpets, because he wished to descend into Hyrcania in a compact and orderly mass.

Having arranged the march as he wished and coming to Tambrax, an unwalled city that nevertheless possessed a royal palace and considerable size, he encamped there.

Most of the people, having withdrawn from the battle and from the surrounding countryside into the city called Syrinx—which lay not far from Tambrax and served as something like the capital of Hyrcania because of its strength and general convenience— he determined to take this place by force. So he gathered the army, advanced, and after encamping around it began the siege.

The main part of the attack lay in the use of covered sheds for filling operations. There were three ditches, each no less than thirty cubits broad and fifteen deep; on the edge of each stood double palisades, and finally a strong outer wall in front.

So there were continual clashes around the works, in which neither side could carry off its dead and wounded, because the fighting took place not only above ground but also underground in the mines, hand to hand.

Yet through the sheer numbers employed and the king's own energy, it soon came about that the ditches were filled and the wall collapsed through the mining.

When this happened, the barbarians, completely disheartened, slaughtered the Greeks inside the city, plundered the most valuable possessions, and withdrew by night.

The king, seeing this, sent Hyperbasas with the mercenaries; when he met them, the barbarians threw away their booty and fled back into the city.

But when the peltasts pressed vigorously through the breach, they despaired and surrendered themselves.

Achriane, a city of Hyrcania.

Polybius, book ten.

Calliope, a city of the Parthians.

Polybius, book ten.

Chapter 32 Fall of M. Claudius Marcellus

The consuls, wishing to reconnoiter clearly the parts of the hill sloping toward the enemy camp, ordered the men within the palisade to remain at their posts, while they themselves took two troops of cavalry and about thirty light-armed men with the lictors and advanced to inspect the terrain.

Now some Numidians, accustomed to lie in ambush for skirmishers and in general for those moving out from the enemy camp, had by chance concealed themselves under the hill.

When their scout signaled that some men were coming over the crest above them, they rose and, moving along the flank, cut off the generals and shut them off from their own camp.

They struck down Claudius at the first clash, together with some others, and after wounding the rest forced them to flee in different directions down the rough ground.

The men in camp saw what was happening but were in no way able to come to the rescue of those in danger. While they were still shouting out and reeling from the shock of what had happened—some bridling their horses, others putting on armor—the affair was already over. Claudius' son, wounded, who had barely and unexpectedly escaped the danger, [...]

Thus Marcus fell because he had behaved in a way more innocent than general-like in the circumstances I have described.

Throughout this work I am often compelled to remind my readers about such matters, because I see that, if commanders fail in any other part of the art of generalship, they especially fail in this one, though the ignorance involved is obvious.

For what use is a leader or general who has not grasped that, among partial dangers in which the whole issue is not at stake, the commander ought to keep as far away as possible?

And what use is one who does not know that, even when circumstances compel him to take part in some limited operation, many of those with him ought to die first before the danger comes near the men in command of the whole?

For, as the proverb says, the experiment ought to be made on a Carian, not on the general.

To say, “I would never have thought it,” or, “Who could have expected this to happen?” seems to me the clearest sign of inexperience and slowness in generalship.

Chapter 33 Hannibal’s Greatness

So although I judge Hannibal to have been a great commander in many ways, one might especially note this point: after spending many years in enemy territory and passing through many varied situations, he repeatedly brought disaster on his opponents in minor operations by his own quick intelligence, yet he himself was never ruined despite directing so many and such great struggles.

It seems that he took such care over his own safety, and rightly so.

For if the man in command remains unharmed and alive, even if the whole undertaking suffers a reverse, fortune still offers many opportunities to recover from the loss caused by disaster.

But if he falls, like the helmsman of a ship, then even if fortune grants the mass of men victory over the enemy, no real advantage results, because all men’s hopes hang upon their leaders.

Let this be said for those who, from vanity, boyish display, or from inexperience or contempt, fall into such irrational errors.

For one or another of these causes always produces such disasters.

Then they suddenly let down the portcullis, which they had suspended a little above by means of machinery, trapped the men, and crucified them before the wall.

Chapter 34 The Submission of the Edetani to Scipio

In Iberia, Publius, the Roman commander, wintered at Tarraco, as I explained earlier, and first attached the Iberians to Roman friendship and loyalty by restoring the hostages to each of them.

In this he found an unexpected ally in Edeco, prince of the Edetani. As soon as the capture of New Carthage had occurred and Publius had become master of his wife and children, Edeco at once reflected on the coming change among the Iberians and wished to take the lead in the same movement, fully convinced that in this way he would recover his wife and children and would seem to have chosen the Roman side not under compulsion but by deliberate intention. And so it turned out.

For as soon as the armies had been dismissed into winter quarters, he came to Tarraco with his household and friends.

When he came into conference with Publius, he said that for this above all he gave the gods the greatest thanks: that he was the first of the rulers in the country to come to him.

The others, he said, were still sending envoys and looking toward the Carthaginians, while at the same time stretching out their hands to the Romans. He, however, had come to place not only himself but also his friends and kinsmen under Roman protection. Therefore, if he were judged worthy to be a friend and ally, he would be of great use to him both immediately and in the future.

For as soon as the Iberians saw that he had been admitted to friendship and had obtained what he asked, all would come in the same way, eager to recover their relatives and gain the alliance of Rome.

And in the time to come, once won over by such honor and humane treatment, they would be eager and unhesitating partners in the rest of his enterprises.

Therefore he asked to recover his wife and children and, once recognized as a friend, to return home, so that with a reasonable occasion in hand he might show, to the full extent of his power, the goodwill of himself and his friends both toward Publius personally and toward the Roman cause.

Such, then, were Edeco's words.

Chapter 35 General Defection to the Romans

When he had finished speaking, Publius, who had long been ready for this very course and had reasoned much as Edeco had done, restored to him his wife and children and concluded the alliance of friendship.

Besides this, by his varied charm in conversation he won over the Iberian and held out great hopes for the future to all his followers, and so sent him back to his own country.

When this affair quickly became famous, it happened that all those dwelling north of the Ebro who had not already been friends of Rome chose the Roman side as if by a single impulse.

So far, then, everything was proceeding well according to Publius' wishes.

After these men had gone, he dismissed the naval forces, seeing that nothing opposed him at sea, and selecting the most suitable men from the sailors, distributed them among the maniples. In this way he increased his infantry strength.

Andobales and Mandonius, who were at that time the greatest dynasts in Iberia and were thought to be the truest friends of the Carthaginians, had long been secretly hostile and were watching for an opportunity ever since Hasdrubal and his party, pretending to distrust them, had demanded a large sum of money and their wives and daughters as hostages, as I described earlier.

Now, thinking that the moment was favorable, they gathered their own forces and in the night withdrew from the Carthaginian camp to certain strong positions capable of securing their safety.

When this happened, most of the other Iberians likewise abandoned Hasdrubal, having long been burdened by Carthaginian arrogance and now at last finding an opportunity to reveal their true intentions openly.

Chapter 36 Difficulty of Making Good Use of a Victory

This, indeed, has often happened before. For though, as I have frequently said, it is a great thing in action to succeed and gain the upper hand over one's enemies in an enterprise, it requires far greater experience and caution to make good use of successes.

So one would find many times more men who have won advantages than men who have used those advantages well. That is exactly what happened then with the Carthaginians.

For after defeating the Roman armies and killing both generals, Publius and Gnaeus, they supposed Iberia to be indisputably theirs and treated the peoples of the country with arrogance.

Accordingly, instead of allies and friends they made enemies of their subjects.

And they suffered this quite deservedly. For while they thought one sort of conduct necessary for gaining empire and another for preserving it, they failed to learn that those preserve superiority best who remain most faithful to the same principles by which they first won power.

Yet it is obvious and has already been seen in many cases that men gain advantages by doing good and by holding out fair hope to their neighbors, but whenever, after getting what they wanted, they begin to do wrong and rule despotically over those under them, it naturally follows that as the rulers change, the dispositions of the subjects change with them. That is what happened then to the Carthaginians.

Chapter 37 Hasdrubal Comes to a Decision

Hasdrubal, then, in such difficult circumstances turned over many varied thoughts about the dangers pressing upon him.

He was distressed by the revolt of Andobales, distressed also by the rivalry and estrangement existing between himself and the other generals, and he was anxious too about the presence of Publius.

Expecting that Publius would now shortly arrive with his forces, and seeing himself abandoned by the Iberians while all were flocking eagerly to the Romans, he came to the following conclusions.

He decided that he must prepare as strong a force as possible and fight the enemy in battle; if fortune granted him victory, he could then safely deliberate about the next step.

But if the battle turned out against him, he would withdraw with those saved from it into Gaul, and there take up as many barbarians as possible and go to Italy, sharing the same hopes as his brother Hannibal.

While Hasdrubal was engaged in these plans, Publius, after receiving Gaius Laelius and hearing the Senate's instructions he brought, led out the forces from winter quarters, the Iberians meeting him on the road and eagerly joining the expedition.

Andobales and his followers had long been sending messages to Publius, and now when he came near their region they left their camp and came to him with their friends. In conference they defended themselves concerning their former friendship with the Carthaginians, and likewise set forth the services and loyalty they had shown them.

After this they recounted the injustices and insults they had suffered at their hands.

Therefore they asked Publius himself to judge what they said, so that if it should appear they were making unjust accusations against the Carthaginians, he might know clearly that they would not be able to keep faith with the Romans either.

But if, forced by many wrongs, they had necessarily withdrawn their goodwill from the Carthaginians, he might hold fair hopes that, having now chosen the Roman side, they would keep their loyalty firmly toward Rome.

Chapter 38 Hasdrubal and Scipio Prepare to Fight

After they had said much more to this effect and then stopped speaking, Publius in reply said that he believed what they had told him, and that he knew well enough the insolence of the Carthaginians, both from their treatment of the other Iberians and especially from the outrage they had done to their wives and daughters.

These women he himself had found living not as hostages but as captives and slaves, and yet had so faithfully protected their honor that even their own fathers could scarcely have guarded them better.

When they acknowledged this and, bowing before him, all addressed him as king, those present approved the words; but Publius, embarrassed, urged them to take courage, for from the Romans, he said, they would receive every kind of humane treatment.

He at once restored the daughters with his own hand, and on the next day concluded the agreement with them.

The substance of the terms was that they should follow the Roman commanders and obey their orders.

Once this was settled, they withdrew to their own camps, took up their forces, came to Publius, and, encamping together with the Romans, advanced against Hasdrubal.

The Carthaginian general happened to be staying in the region around Castulo near the town of Baecula, not far from the silver mines.

When he learned of the Romans' arrival, he shifted camp and chose a position with a river secure in his rear, and in front of the camp a level place with a projecting brow, with depth enough for safety and breadth enough for deployment. There he stayed on the lower ground, always posting reserves along the brow.

When Publius came near, he was eager to risk battle, but was at a loss because he saw how favorable the ground was for the enemy's security.

Even so, after waiting two days and fearing that if Mago and Hasdrubal son of Gisco should also arrive the enemy might surround him from every side, he decided to hazard the attempt and test the enemy.

Chapter 39 Scipio Attacks Hasdrubal

He made the rest of his army ready for battle and kept it inside the camp, but sent out the light-armed troops and picked infantry with orders to attack the brow of the hill and test the enemy reserves.

When they carried out the command boldly, at first the Carthaginian general merely watched what was happening; but when he saw that, because of the Romans' audacity, his own men were under pressure and suffering badly, he brought out his force and stationed it along the brow, trusting in the ground.

At that moment Publius sent all the light-armed troops to support those already engaged, while holding the rest in readiness. Taking half himself, he went round the brow to the enemy's left and attacked the Carthaginians, while the other half he gave to Laelius with similar orders to fall upon the enemy's right.

As this was happening, Hasdrubal was still in the act of leading his troops out from the camp. Up to that time he had been waiting because he trusted the position and was convinced the enemy would never dare attempt an assault; so, because the attack came unexpectedly, he was late in making his deployment.

The Romans, attacking on the wings before the enemy had yet occupied those positions, not only reached the brow in safety, but while the Carthaginians were still moving into place and trying to form up, they pressed on and killed some on the flank as they came up, while others still maneuvering they forced to turn and flee.

Hasdrubal, accordingly, reverting to the plan he had formed from the start and seeing his forces wavering and thrown into confusion, rejected the thought of staking everything on a last desperate struggle.

Taking the money and the elephants, and drawing together as many fugitives as he could, he retreated by way of the Tagus toward the passes of the Pyrenees and the Gauls living there.

Publius did not think it advantageous to pursue Hasdrubal at once, because he feared an attack by the other commanders; instead, he let his soldiers plunder the enemy camp.

Chapter 40 Scipio Refuses the Title "King"

On the next day he gathered together the prisoners, of whom there were about ten thousand infantry and more than two thousand cavalry, and busied himself with arranging their disposition.

And all those Iberians who in the districts just mentioned had been fighting then on the Carthaginian side came and placed themselves under Roman protection; and in their interviews they addressed Publius as king.

The first to do this and to bow before him had been Edeco, and after him those with Andobales. At that time, however, the word had passed him by without special notice.

But after the battle, when all alike kept calling him king, the repeated title forced the matter upon Publius' attention.

So he gathered the Iberians and said that he did indeed wish to be and to be called kingly by all men in character and in truth, but that he neither wished to be a king nor to be called one by anyone. Having said this, he ordered them to address him as general.

Even at that moment one might perhaps justly have marked the greatness of the man's spirit: though he was very young and fortune had run so strongly with him that all those coming under his rule were led by themselves to this judgment and this title, nevertheless he kept his self-command and pushed away such an impulse and such outward show.

But one would admire the extraordinary greatness of soul in this man much more if one considered the closing period of his life, when in addition to his deeds in Iberia he overthrew the Carthaginians, brought under his country's control the greatest and finest regions of Libya from the Altars of Philaenus to the Pillars of Heracles, subdued Asia and the kings of Syria, and made the best and greatest part of the inhabited world subject to Rome, while at the same time he had opportunities to acquire royal dominion in whatever regions of the world he might choose.

For such achievements would have made not only a human being but, if one may say so, something more divine grow proud.

Yet Publius surpassed other men so greatly in greatness of soul that what no man would dare ask the gods for as a greater good—I mean kingship—that very thing, though often offered him by fortune, he rejected; and he valued his country and his loyalty to it more highly than that conspicuous and enviable royalty.

At that time, however, after selecting from the captives the Iberians, he released them all without ransom to their own homes, and ordering Andobales and his people to choose three hundred of the horses, he distributed the rest among those who had none.

Afterward, taking over the Carthaginian camp because the site was so favorable, he remained there himself watching for the movements of the remaining Carthaginian generals, while he sent men to the

passes of the Pyrenees to keep watch on Hasdrubal.

Later, as the season was already drawing to its close, he withdrew with the army to Tarraco to winter in that region.

Chapter 41 Affairs in Greece: Philip V. Called In Against the Aetolians

The Aetolians, recently elated by the arrival of the Romans and King Attalus, were alarming everyone and pressing hard against all by land, while Attalus and Publius did the same by sea.

Accordingly the Achaeans came urging Philip to help, for they were anxious not only about the Aetolians but also about Machanidas, because he was encamped with his force on the borders of Argos.

The Boeotians too, fearing the enemy fleet, asked for a commander and assistance. Those inhabiting Euboea were especially insistent that some precaution be taken against the enemy. The Acarnanians made similar appeals.

There was also an embassy from the Epirotes. At the same time it was reported that Scerdilaidas and Pleuratus were taking the field, and further that the Thracians bordering Macedonia, especially the Maedi, were preparing to invade Macedonia if the king should be drawn even a little way from his own kingdom.

The Aetolians were also preoccupying the narrows around Thermopylae with ditches, palisades, and heavy guards, convinced that they would shut Philip in and altogether prevent him from coming to the aid of the allies inside the pass.

It seems to me quite reasonable to call attention to such situations and fix the reader's notice upon them, since in them a true test and proof is made of the emotional resolve and bodily powers of commanders.

For just as in hunting the strength and courage of animals become most visible when danger closes round them from every side, so too with leaders. And what Philip did on this occasion made this especially clear.

For he dismissed all the embassies, promising each to do what he could, and fixed his attention on the war pressing him from every side, watching where and against whom he would need to make his first move.

Chapter 42 Reinforcements Sent to Various Cities

At this time word reached him that Attalus and his men had crossed over and, after putting in at Peparethus, had occupied the island. So he sent forces there to guard the city.

To Phocis and the regions of Boeotia he dispatched Polyphantas with a suitable force, and to Chalcis and the rest of Euboea Menippus with a thousand peltasts and five hundred Agrianians.

He himself advanced on a march to Scotussa, and likewise ordered the Macedonians to meet him in that city.

When he learned that Attalus and his men had sailed into Nicaea, and that the Aetolian leaders were gathering at Heraclea to confer with one another about the present situation, he took up the army from Scotussa and set out in haste, eager to appear there and throw their meeting into panic and confusion.

He arrived too late for the gathering, but after destroying and carrying off the grain of the inhabitants around the Maliac Gulf, he returned.

He left the main army again in Scotussa, but himself, taking the light-armed troops and the royal squadron, went to Demetrias and stayed there, watching the enemy's designs.

And so that nothing they did might escape him, he sent messages to Peparethus and to those in Phocis, and likewise to those in Euboea, ordering them to report all events to him by beacon-fires directed toward Mount Tisaeum.

This is a mountain in Thessaly, well situated for viewing the regions just mentioned.

Chapter 43 Fire Signals

Since the use of beacon-signals is of the greatest service in war, and since the subject had previously remained undeveloped, I think it useful not to pass it by but to make suitable mention of it.

That timely action plays a great part in all undertakings, and the greatest in war, is clear to everyone. Among all the devices that contribute to this, beacon-fires have the greatest power.

For by them one may learn of events that have just happened or are actually taking place, if one takes heed, at a distance of three or four days' journey, and sometimes even more.

So it often happens that help arrives unexpectedly where it is needed because the news has been conveyed by fire-signals.

Formerly, however, since the method of beacon-signalling was in most cases simple, it turned out to be useless to those employing it.

For the system had to operate by fixed conventions, while most events are indefinite and varied, so that most of them escaped the use of beacons—as in the cases just mentioned.

That a fleet had arrived at Oreus or Peparethus or Chalcis could indeed be made clear to those who had agreed on such a signal.

But if certain citizens are changing sides, or betraying the city, or a massacre has occurred, or any other such thing—events which often happen, but for which it is impossible to make prior provision, though such unexpected developments especially demand prompt deliberation and aid— all such matters escaped the use of fire-signals. For where no prior foresight is possible, no agreed sign for the event can be devised either.

Chapter 44 Methods of Signalling

Aeneas, then, the man who composed the manuals on tactics, wishing to correct this difficulty, made some progress, but his device still fell very far short of what was required.

One may see this from the following. He says that those who wish to communicate urgent information to one another by beacon-fires should prepare earthenware vessels exactly equal in width and depth, the depth being best at three cubits and the width at one.

Then they should prepare corks a little narrower than the mouths of the vessels, and in the middle of these should fix rods divided into equal sections of three fingers' breadth, with each section clearly marked.

On each section should be written one of the most obvious and general events that occur in war, for example, immediately on the first, "cavalry have entered the country," on the second "heavy infantry," on the third "light troops," and after these, "infantry with cavalry," then "ships," after that "grain," and so on continuously, until in all the spaces there are written those events which according to reasonable foresight are most likely to occur in the war then on hand.

When this has been done, he directs that both vessels be pierced accurately so that the outlets are equal and discharge equally; then, after filling them with water, the corks with the rods are to be placed upon them, and the outlets are to be opened at the same moment.

If this happens, then clearly, since everything is equal and alike, the fluid will run off in equal measure, the corks will sink by the same amount, and the rods will disappear into the vessels in the same proportion.

And when by experiment this operation has proved equal in speed and in agreement, the two vessels are to be taken to the places where the parties will watch for the beacon-signals and each side is to set down its vessel.

Then whenever one of the items written on the rod occurs, he says a torch should be raised and held until the observers opposite raise one in answer. Once both torches are visible at the same time, they are to be lowered, and then the outlets are to be opened at once.

Then, when the cork and the rod sinking with it bring the desired inscription level with the rim of the vessel, he directs that the torch should be raised.

The others are then to stop their outlet at once and look to see what words on the rod stand level with the rim of their own vessel.

That will be the message conveyed, provided everything on both sides has moved at the same speed.

Chapter 45 An Improved Method

This method, then, made some small improvement on signalling by prior convention, but it still remains indefinite.

For it is clear that one can neither foresee everything that may happen nor, even if foreseen, write it all upon the rod. So whenever unforeseen events arise out of circumstances, it is plain that they cannot be signaled by this device.

Nor are even the things written on the rod themselves definite. For it cannot make clear how many cavalry or infantry have arrived, in what part of the country, how many ships there are, or how much grain.

For matters that cannot be known before they happen cannot have fixed conventions laid down for them in advance.

And this is the essential point: how can anyone deliberate about sending help if he does not know how many enemies have arrived or where? Or how can he either take courage or the reverse, or form any plan at all, if he does not understand how many ships or how much grain have come from allies?

But the latest method, devised by Cleoxenus and Democleitus and worked out further by me, is completely definite and able to indicate every urgent circumstance precisely, though in operation it requires careful attention and very exact observation.

It is as follows. Take the alphabet in order and divide it into five groups of five letters each; the last group will be short by one letter, but that does not harm the practical use.

Then those who are to exchange signals with one another should each prepare five tablets and write one group of letters on each tablet in order.

After this they should agree that the man who is about to signal will first raise two torches together and hold them until the other raises two in answer.

This is so that by these beacons they may acknowledge to one another that they are paying attention.

When those are lowered, the signaller next raises torches on the left to show which tablet must be consulted—for instance, one if the first tablet is meant, two if the second, and so on in order.

Then he raises torches on the right according to the same principle to show which letter on that tablet the receiver must write down.

Chapter 46 Improvements In Signalling

Once these arrangements have been agreed on and the parties have gone apart, each side at its station should first have a sighting device with two tubes, so that the observer receiving the returning signal may see through one the right-hand position and through the other the left.

Next to the sighting device the tablets should be fixed upright in order.

And both the right and left positions should be screened off for ten feet, with a depth about the height of a man, so that when torches are raised beside them the appearance is exact, and when lowered they are hidden from view.

When these preparations have been made on both sides, if one wishes, for example, to indicate that "about a hundred soldiers have deserted to the enemy," one must first choose words that express the same thing in the fewest letters, for instance, instead of the phrase just given, "A hundred Cretans have deserted from us." In this way the letters are fewer by more than half, while the same message is made clear.

Once this has been written on a tablet, it will be conveyed by the torches as follows. The first letter is kappa.

Now this belongs to the second group and the second tablet. So one must raise two torches on the left, so that the receiver knows he must look at the second tablet.

Then one raises five torches on the right, indicating kappa, since it is the fifth letter in the second group, and the receiver must write that down on his tablet.

Then four torches on the left, since rho is in the fourth group; then again two on the right, since it is the second letter in the fourth group. Thus the receiver writes rho, and the rest in the same manner.

By this device, then, every occurrence is indicated in a precise way.

Chapter 47 Importance of Practice

The number of torches used is large because for each letter two sets of signals must be made.

Even so, if one prepares properly for the task, the necessary result can be achieved.

And in either system the operators must practice beforehand, so that when the need arises they can communicate clearly to one another without mistake.

How great the difference is between first attempts and actions performed from habit can easily be learned from many examples.

For many things that at first seem not only difficult but impossible are later, through time and habit, carried out more easily than anything else.

There are many examples that could confirm this point, but the clearest is what happens in reading.

If one were to place beside each other a clever man who knew no letters and had no practice in reading, and a child who had acquired the habit, and then give the child a book and tell him to read what is written, it is clear that the untrained man would scarcely believe that the reader must first fix his eyes upon the appearance of each letter, second upon its sound-value, and third upon the combinations of letters with one another, each of which takes a certain amount of time.

So when he sees the child, without pause, stringing together five or seven lines in a breath, he will not readily believe that the child has not read the book before.

And if he can also preserve the delivery, the divisions, and even the rough and smooth breathings, he will believe it still less.

Therefore one should not give up any useful art because of its apparent difficulties, but should acquire the habit by which all fine achievements become attainable to men, especially in matters of this sort, on which safety itself often depends.

This, then, is what I have gone on to say in accordance with my original promise. For I said that in our own time all the arts have advanced so far that most branches of knowledge have in a way become methodical sciences.

And that is why this too proves the most useful part of a properly composed history.

Chapter 48 Antiochus Crosses the Arius

The Apasiacae live between the Oxus and the Tanais. Of these rivers, the one flows into the Hyrcanian Sea, while the Tanais empties into the Maeotic Lake, and each is navigable because of its size.

So it seems surprising how the Nomads cross the Oxus and come into Hyrcania on foot with their horses.

Two accounts are given of this matter, one plausible and the other remarkable, though not impossible.

The Oxus has its sources in the Caucasus and, after being greatly swollen in Bactria by the waters flowing into it, moves through flat country with a great and muddy stream.

When it reaches the desert, it drives its current violently against certain projecting rocks, and because of the mass of water and the descent from the higher ground, it leaps so far from the rock below that its fall is more than a stade away at the lower level.

It is through this place, they say, that the Apasiacae pass on foot with their horses into Hyrcania, keeping close to the rock beneath the river's fall.

The other account offers a more plausible explanation. Since the ground below contains broad hollows into which the river plunges, they say that the force of the current scoops out and breaks through them downward and then carries the stream for a short distance underground, after which it appears again.

And the barbarians, because they know the place, cross the dry interval on horseback into Hyrcania.

Chapter 49 Antiochus Engages the Bactrians

When news came that Euthydemus and his army were in Tapuria, and that ten thousand cavalry were posted in advance guarding the crossings of the river Arius, Antiochus decided to abandon the siege and attack these forces.

Since the river was three days' march away, he made a moderate march for two days; on the third, after the others had dined, he ordered them to break camp at daybreak, while he himself took the cavalry and light-armed troops, together with ten thousand peltasts, and advanced by night at a vigorous pace.

For he had learned that the enemy cavalry kept guard by day along the riverbank, but at night withdrew to a city not less than twenty stades away.

Having covered the remaining distance by night, and since the plains were suitable for cavalry movement, he succeeded in getting most of the force with him across the river by daybreak.

The cavalry of the Bactrians, once their scouts had signaled what had happened, came out to help and met their opponents while still on the march.

The king, seeing that he must receive the enemy's first onset, summoned the two thousand cavalrymen around him who were accustomed to face danger with him, and ordered all the rest to form by standards and squadrons and take up their usual positions.

Then he himself, with the cavalry just mentioned, rode out to meet and engage the first Bactrian charge.

Antiochus seems on this occasion to have fought with the most distinguished gallantry of anyone with him.

Many on both sides were killed. The king's men overcame the first squadron, but when the second and third came on, they were hard pressed and suffered badly.

At that moment, when most of the cavalry had by then drawn up, Panaetolus ordered a forward movement, received the king and those fighting with him, and forced the Bactrians, who were charging on in disorder, to turn and flee in confusion.

Pressed by Panaetolus and his men, they did not stop until they rejoined Euthydemus, having lost most of their number.

The king's cavalry, after killing many and taking many alive, withdrew and bivouacked that night by the river.

In this engagement the king's horse [...] was killed after being wounded [...], while Antiochus himself was struck in the mouth and lost some teeth, and above all won a high reputation for courage on that day.

After this battle Euthydemus, in alarm, withdrew with his army to the city of Zariaspa in Bactria.

Book XI

The heroic death of Hasdrubal Barca, charging into the Roman ranks at the Battle of the Metaurus (207 BC). Book XI, 1–3.

Chapter 1 Death of Hasdrubal

Hasdrubal's arrival in Italy proved much easier and quicker than had been expected.

So Rome was never at any other time more tense or more terrified, as it waited to see what would happen.

None of this pleased Hasdrubal; but since circumstances no longer allowed any withdrawal, because he saw the enemy already drawn up and advancing, he was forced to form his Iberians and the Gauls who were with him in battle order.

He placed the ten elephants in front, deepened his lines, compressed his whole force into a narrow space, and stationed himself in the center of the formation under the protection of the elephants, advancing against the enemy's left with the settled resolve that in the present danger he must either win or die.

Livius advanced against the enemy in earnest and fought bravely once the armies had joined.

Claudius, who had been posted on the right wing, could neither move forward nor outflank the opposition because of the difficult ground in front, and it was in reliance on this ground that Hasdrubal had made his attack on the Roman left.

Unable to act and troubled by his inaction, he learned from the situation itself what he ought to do.

So he took the troops from his own right wing, marched them behind the battle line, passed beyond the Roman left, and attacked the Carthaginians near the elephants on the flank.

Up to this point victory hung in the balance. Both sides fought with equal desperation, because the Romans knew that if they failed they had no hope of safety, while the Iberians and Carthaginians were in the same case; and the elephants served both sides alike in the battle.

Caught in the middle and pelted with missiles, they threw both the Roman and the Iberian lines into confusion.

But as soon as Claudius' men fell on the enemy from the rear, the battle was no longer equal, since the Iberians were being pressed from the front by some and from behind by others.

As a result, most of the Iberians were cut down where they stood in the very crisis of the fight.

Six of the elephants fell together with their riders, and the other four, after breaking through the ranks, were later captured by themselves, stripped of their Indian drivers.

Chapter 1a Why Polybius Prefaces Each Olympiad

Some may perhaps ask why in this book I have not prefaced the narrative with summaries, as earlier writers did, but have instead set out an introduction to the events for each Olympiad.

In my judgment the use of summaries is indeed valuable. They help readers understand, attract and encourage those who come upon the work, and make it easy to find whatever one is looking for.

But since I see that this kind of prefatory summary is often neglected and loses its force for many reasons, I was led to adopt this other method.

For the introductory survey is not merely as useful as a summary but can do even more, and it also has a safer place because it is woven into the history itself.

Therefore I decided to use this method throughout the whole work, except in the first six books. In those I used summaries, because that sort of introduction did not fit them very well.

Chapter 2 Hasdrubal's Conduct in His Last Battle

Hasdrubal showed himself a brave man both before this and in his final hour, and he ended his life fighting hand to hand. That deserves notice and should not be passed over in silence.

That he was Hannibal's own brother, and that when Hannibal went to Italy he entrusted the affairs in Iberia to him, I have already explained earlier.

I have also shown how he fought many struggles against the Romans and wrestled with many varied difficulties because of [...] the generals sent out from Carthage to Iberia, and how through all these reverses and setbacks he continued to bear himself nobly and with courage worthy of his father Barca. But now I will speak of his last contests, for in these above all he seems to me to deserve close attention and even imitation.

For one may observe that most generals and kings, when they undertake decisive struggles, keep before their eyes only the glory and advantage to be won by success, and often pause to consider how they will use each success if events turn out as they wish.

But they do not set before themselves the consequences of failure, nor do they consider what each must do in a reversal. Yet the first is easy, while the second requires much foresight.

Therefore most men, through weakness of spirit and poor judgment in such moments, make their defeats shameful, even when their soldiers have often fought bravely; they disgrace what they had accomplished before and leave behind a life marked by reproach.

Since many leaders fail precisely in this point, and since the difference between one man and another here is very great, anyone who wishes can learn it readily; for past history has provided many examples.

Hasdrubal, by contrast, so long as any reasonable hope remained that he could do something worthy of his earlier achievements, took no greater thought in danger than for his own preservation.

But when Fortune had shut him in at the last extremity and stripped away every hope for the future, then, though he omitted nothing either in preparation or in battle that might secure victory, he took just as much thought for how, if he failed, he might confront the event in a way worthy of all that he had done before and endure nothing unworthy of his former life.

Let these remarks stand for those engaged in action, so that they may neither, by reckless courting of danger, ruin the hopes of those who trusted them, nor, by clinging to life beyond what is honorable, make their disasters shameful.

Chapter 3 The Romans Celebrate a Victory

After winning the battle, the Romans at once plundered the enemy camp, and they slaughtered many of the Gauls in their sleeping-places, drunk and helpless like sacrificial victims.

They also gathered the rest of the captured booty, from which more than three hundred talents were brought into the public treasury.

Of the Carthaginians and Gauls together, not fewer than ten thousand fell in the battle, while about two thousand Romans died. Some distinguished Carthaginians were taken alive, but the rest were destroyed.

When the report reached Rome, at first they could not believe it, so strongly did they want it to be true.

But when more messengers arrived, making clear not only that the event had happened but the details of it as well, then the city was filled with overwhelming joy, every sacred precinct was adorned, and every temple was crowded with cakes and sacrificial victims.

In general they were brought to such confidence and courage that all thought Hannibal, whom they had feared more than anything before, was no longer even in Italy.

But he declared that such words had only the appearance of truth, while the reality was otherwise—indeed the opposite.

Chapter 4 A Plea For Union In Greece

“I think the facts themselves have made it clear, men of Aetolia, that neither King Ptolemy nor the city of Rhodes nor the peoples of Byzantium, Chios, and Mytilene treat a reconciliation with you as a minor

matter.

For this is not the first time or the second that we have spoken to you about peace. Ever since you began this war, we have sat by you, seized every opportunity, and never stopped reminding you of these things, having in view for the present the destruction of both yourselves and the Macedonians, and for the future the safety of our own countries and of the rest of the Greeks.

For just as with a fire, once someone has set the material alight, what follows is no longer under his control, but the blaze takes whatever course chance gives it, governed mostly by the winds and by the destruction of the fuel beneath it, and often in an irrational way rushes back upon the very man who first kindled it, so too war, once some people have set it blazing, sometimes destroys them first and sometimes sweeps onward unjustly ruining all that lies in its path, always finding new fuel and being fanned, as if by winds, by the ignorance of neighboring peoples.

Therefore, men of Aetolia, since the islanders as a whole and the Greeks who dwell in Asia have sent us here to beg you to put an end to the war and choose peace, because what is happening concerns us as well, come to your senses, feel shame, and listen to those who urge you.

If by some chance you were fighting a war that was unprofitable, as most wars are, but still glorious both in its original purpose and in the reputation likely to follow from it, perhaps someone might forgive your eagerness.

But if it is the most disgraceful of all wars, full of dishonor and slander, does the matter not require the greatest reflection?

I will speak openly about what I think, and if you are wise you will bear it calmly.

For it is far better to be reproved at the right moment and be saved than, by hearing pleasing words, soon to perish yourselves and drag the rest of the Greeks down with you."

Chapter 5 Dangers of the Treaty With Rome

"Set your own blindness before your eyes. You claim to be making war on Philip for the sake of the Greeks, so that, being safe, they may not have to do what he commands; but in reality you are making war for the enslavement and ruin of Greece.

That is what your treaty with the Romans says—a treaty which formerly existed only on paper, but now is seen taking shape in events themselves.

At first the written terms merely brought shame on you; now by your actions that shame is made visible to everyone.

Philip is now only a name and a pretext for the war, for he is suffering no great harm. He has as allies most of the Peloponnesians, the Boeotians, Euboeans, Phocians, Locrians, Thessalians, and Epirotes;

and it is against these peoples that you have made your treaty, on the condition that their persons and movable goods belong to the Romans, while their cities and land belong to the Aetolians.

If you yourselves captured a city, you would not tolerate insulting free people or burning their towns, because you regard such conduct as cruel and barbaric.

Yet you have made treaties by which you have handed over all the other Greeks to barbarians for the most shameful outrages and lawless acts.

Formerly this was not understood. But now, because of the people of Oreus and the wretched Aeginetans, you have become plain to all, as if Fortune had deliberately set your folly up on a public stage.

Such are the origins of the war and such the things already happening. And if everything now turns out exactly as you wish, what sort of end should one expect? Surely the beginning of great evils for all the Greeks?"

Chapter 6 Philip In Aetolia Again

"For anyone can see that if the Romans put an end to the war in Italy—and that moment is close at hand now that Hannibal has been shut up within a very narrow corner of Bruttium— they will next hurl their full force at Greece, claiming in words that they are helping the Aetolians against Philip, but in truth intending to bring everything there under their own power. I think this is perfectly plain.

And whether, once masters, they govern well or badly, the credit and title will belong to them if they act well, while if they act badly, the profits from those they ruin and the authority over those they spare will likewise belong to them.

Then you will call the gods to witness, when neither any god will still wish nor any human being be able to help you.

Perhaps from the beginning you ought to have foreseen all this, for that would have been fitting for you. But since many future events escape human foresight, now at least, after seeing from these things what happens, you ought to take better counsel about the future.

In any case, for our part, we have left undone nothing that true friends ought to say or do in the present, and we have spoken our mind frankly about what is coming.

We ask and urge you not to begrudge either yourselves or the rest of the Greeks their freedom and safety."

This speech seemed to produce some change of mind among the majority. After him came the ambassadors from Philip, who passed over the arguments point by point and said they had come with two instructions.

If the Aetolians chose peace, they were to accept it at once; [...] they were to call the gods and the ambassadors then present from the other Greek states to witness, and to depart after declaring that for whatever should happen afterward to the Greeks the Aetolians, not Philip, must be held responsible.

Chapter 7 Philip Vandalizes Thermus

Philip bitterly lamented that he had come very close to getting Attalus into his hands.

Then, after marching to Lake Trichonis and arriving at Thermus, where there was a sanctuary of Apollo, he defaced all the offerings that he had left untouched before, showing bad temper both on the former occasion and on this one.

For when a man is angry with human beings and in his anger becomes impious toward the divine, that is a sign of utter irrationality.

Ellopion, a city of Aetolia.

Phytaion, a city of Aetolia.

Chapter 8 Faults of the Achaean Officers

Since there are three methods by which all sensible men who apply themselves to generalship try to attain it—first by memoirs and the preparation derived from them, second by systematic instruction and the teaching handed down by experienced men, and third by practice and familiarity in real operations— the Achaean commanders were in general ignorant of all three.

Most of them were infected with an unhappy rivalry produced by the boastfulness and bad taste of others.

They made a great point of their entourages and their clothing, and among most of them there was an extravagance that outstripped their means of living. But they paid not the slightest attention to their weapons.

For most people do not even try to imitate the actual achievements of successful men, but by admiring their side habits they merely put their own lack of judgment on display to their own harm.

Chapter 9 Philopoemen in the Peloponnese, 207 BC

He said that brilliance in armor contributes greatly to striking fear into one's opponents, and that having weapons properly fitted is of great practical use.

The best course would be this: give your weapons the care you now lavish on your clothing, and transfer to your clothing the neglect you now show toward your arms.

If you do this, you will both improve your private way of life and be able, by common agreement, to preserve the public interest.

So, he said, when a man goes out to drill or to campaign and is fastening on his greaves, he ought to consider more carefully that they fit well and shine brightly than that his shoes and sandals do.

And when he takes up shield, cuirass, and helmet, he should make sure that these are cleaner and finer than his cloak and tunic.

For wherever things meant merely for display are preferred to things meant for use, what will happen in danger is obvious from the start.

In general he insisted that adornment in clothing belongs to women, and not even to respectable women, whereas splendor and dignity in armor belong to good men who choose to save themselves and their cities honorably.

Everyone present approved what he said so strongly and admired the sense of his exhortation that, as soon as they left the council chamber, they immediately pointed out those who were overdressed and forced some of them to withdraw from the marketplace.

And later, in drills and campaigns alike, they watched themselves still more carefully in the matters he had mentioned.

Chapter 10 Philopoemen and Machanidas

So it is that a single timely word spoken by a man who deserves trust often not only turns people away from the worst courses but also urges them on to the finest.

And when the man who exhorts others also presents his own life as consistent with his words, then that advice necessarily carries the highest conviction. This was especially true in the case of that man.

For in dress and food he was plain and simple, and the same was true of his care for the body and of his dealings with others: he was easy to approach and free from pretension.

Above all, he made the greatest effort throughout his life to tell the truth. So even when he spoke briefly and without ornament, he left a powerful conviction in his hearers.

By presenting his own life as an example in every matter, he made his listeners need very few words.

Accordingly he often swept away long speeches, which his political opponents thought well argued, with only a few remarks, simply because of the trust he inspired and the way facts themselves supported him.

So on this occasion too, when the deliberation had ended, all went back to their cities having formed an exceptional opinion both of his words and of the man himself, believing that with him in command no serious disaster could befall them.

Philopoemen at once began visiting the cities, making the tour energetically and with earnest purpose.

Then he gathered the young men, trained them, organized them, and after no more than eight months spent in this preparation and practice, assembled his forces at Mantinea to contend with the tyrant for the freedom of all the Peloponnesians.

Chapter 11 Arrangement of Forces at Mantinea

Machanidas had grown confident and thought the Achaean advance turned out exactly as he could have wished. As soon as he learned that they had assembled at Mantinea, he addressed the Spartans at Tegea as the situation required, and on the very next day, just at dawn, advanced against Mantinea, himself leading the right wing of the phalanx.

He marched his mercenaries on either side of the van in parallel columns, and behind them came teams carrying a large quantity of engines and catapult missiles.

At the same time Philopoemen led his army out of Mantinea, having divided it into three parts: by the road from the sanctuary of Poseidon he took the Illyrians and armored troops, together with all the mercenaries and light-armed men; by the next gate, toward the west, the phalanx; and by the next after that the citizen cavalry.

He first seized with his light troops the hill in front of the city, which rises considerably above the road called Xenis and the sanctuary just mentioned. Next he stationed the armored troops, extending the line southward, and beside them he placed the Illyrians.

After these, continuing in the same straight line, he set the phalanx in companies with intervals between them along the ditch that runs toward the Poseidium through the middle of the Mantinean plain and joins the mountains that border the territory of the Elisphasians.

Next to them on the right wing he stationed the Achaean cavalry under Aristaenetus of Dyme, while he himself held the entire mercenary force on the left in successive ranks.

Chapter 12 Battle of Mantinea

As soon as the enemy force had come plainly into view, he rode along the companies of the phalanx, urging them on briefly but vividly with reference to the danger before them.

Most of what he said could not be heard, because the good will and trust of the troops drove the multitude into such eagerness and zeal that their answering encouragement resembled inspired frenzy, as they shouted for him to lead them on and be confident.

Still, whenever he found the chance, he tried to make at least this point clear: that the present struggle stood on one side for shameful and degrading slavery, and on the other for glorious freedom that would be remembered forever.

Machanidas at first made a show of charging in column against the enemy's right wing; but when he drew near, he deployed his force by the right, stretched out the line, made his own right equal in length to the Achaean left, and stationed the catapults at intervals in front of the whole army.

Philopoemen saw from this maneuver that Machanidas intended by catapult fire to wound the men in the companies of the phalanx and throw the whole formation into disorder.

So he gave him no time and no breathing-space, but vigorously opened the battle through the Tarentines in the region near the Poseidium, where the ground was level and well suited for cavalry action.

Machanidas, seeing what was happening, was forced to do the same and launch his own Tarentines into action.

Chapter 13 Efficiency of Mercenaries

At first the collision of these troops alone was spirited; but as the light-armed men gradually came to the aid of those under pressure, it very quickly happened that the mercenaries on both sides became thoroughly mixed together.

As the fighting among them became dense and man-to-man on every side, the struggle remained evenly balanced for a long time, so much so that the rest of the forces, watching to see in which direction the dust would turn, were unable to join battle because both sides held their original ground for so long.

But as time went on, the tyrant's mercenaries began to prevail because of their numbers and because long practice had made them handier in action.

This was natural and is indeed what usually happens.

For to the degree that the masses in democracies are more eager in military struggles than the citizens subject to tyrants, to that same degree the mercenaries under monarchs are naturally superior to and more effective than the mercenaries hired by democracies.

Just as in the former case one side fights for freedom and the other for slavery, so among mercenaries one side exerts itself for certain reward while the other knows that victory will obviously bring loss.

For when a democracy has put down those who attacked it, it no longer maintains its freedom by means of mercenaries; but the more a tyranny reaches after greater power, the more mercenaries it needs.

By wronging more people it gains more men who plot against it. In general the security of monarchs rests on the loyalty and force of foreign troops.

Chapter 14 Machanidas Changes his Plan

That is why on this occasion the mercenary force under Machanidas fought with such fury and violence that even the Illyrians and armored troops stationed in reserve behind the Achaean mercenaries could not withstand their attack, but all were driven out and fled headlong toward Mantinea, which was seven stades away.

At that moment what had been doubtful to some became plain and universally acknowledged: in warfare many outcomes are decided by the experience—or again the inexperience—of commanders.

For perhaps it is a great thing to follow up an initial advantage properly, but it is a far greater thing, after failing in one's first attempt, to remain master of oneself, notice the lack of judgment of the apparent victors, and then strike at their mistakes.

Indeed one may often see those who seem already to have gained the advantage soon afterward ruined in the whole affair, while those who seemed at first to have stumbled later, thanks to their own quick intelligence, recover and win a surprising success.

That, in fact, now seemed to have happened clearly in the case of both commanders.

For when the entire Achaean mercenary force had given way and the left wing had been broken up, Machanidas abandoned the position that lay before him and gave up the plan of outflanking the enemy on one side while meeting them in front on the other.

Instead, in a loss of self-control and with the impulsiveness of a young man, he poured forward with his own mercenaries and pressed hard after the fugitives, as though fear itself were not enough to drive men who had once given way all the way to the gates.

Chapter 15 Defeat of the Spartans

The Achaean general, for as long as he could, kept trying to hold the mercenaries in place, calling the officers by name and urging them on.

But when he saw them being overwhelmed, he neither fled in panic nor withdrew in despair [...]. Instead he drew back under cover of the wing of the phalanx, and when the pursuers had gone past and the ground where the struggle had been was left vacant, he immediately wheeled the front companies of the phalanx to the left and advanced at the double while keeping their ranks.

By swiftly occupying the abandoned position he both cut off the pursuers and at the same time found himself in a commanding position over the enemy's wing.

He urged the phalangites to be bold and stand fast until he gave the signal for the general advance.

And he ordered Polyaenus the Megalopolitan to gather the remaining Illyrians, armored troops, and mercenaries who had not joined in the flight, to form a reserve on the flank of the phalanx, and to

watch for the return of those coming back from the pursuit.

The Spartans, however, without waiting for orders and elated in spirit by the success of the light troops, lowered their sarissas and rushed on the enemy.

But when in the course of this advance they reached the edge of the ditch, the moment no longer allowed them to change their minds and turn back with enemies already close at hand; and besides, despising the ditch because the descent into it had long been gradual and there was no water at the bottom and no wild growth in it, they charged through it without proper thought.

Chapter 16 Philopoemen Seizes an Opportunity

At that very moment when the long-anticipated opportunity appeared against the enemy, Philopoemen ordered all the phalangites to level their sarissas and charge.

The Achaeans advanced with one spirit and with a terrifying shout. The Spartan ranks, already broken during the descent into the ditch, lost courage as they tried to climb out and found the enemy above them.

Many turned to flight, while the greater number perished in the ditch itself, some at the hands of the Achaeans and others at the hands of their own men.

This result did not come by mere chance or from the terrain alone, but from the intelligence of the commander, who had deliberately taken position behind the ditch.

For Philopoemen had not done so to avoid battle, as some supposed, but because he had calculated each point with exactness and true generalship. He reasoned that when Machanidas arrived, if he advanced his force without foreseeing the ditch, then his phalanx would suffer exactly what in fact now happened to it.

But if, noticing the awkwardness of the ditch, he changed his mind, seemed to lose heart, and broke off while extended in line so as to give himself a long withdrawal on the march, then victory would still fall to Philopoemen and the opposite to his enemy, even without a full battle.

This has already happened to many commanders who drew up for battle and then judged themselves not fit to fight their opponents, either because of the ground, or because of inferior numbers, or for other reasons, and who while withdrawing in extended order hoped either to gain an advantage by means of their rear guard or at least to disengage safely from the enemy.

In just such situations it happens that the commanders most [...].

Chapter 17 Army of Machanidas Put to Flight

Philopoemen, however, was not mistaken in his foresight of what would happen, for the Spartans were routed with a severe defeat.

Seeing that the phalanx was winning and that affairs in general were moving splendidly in his favor, he now pressed on to complete what remained of the whole design: to make sure that Machanidas did not escape.

Knowing that, in the course of the pursuit, Machanidas had been cut off with his own mercenaries in the area between the ditch and the city, he waited for his appearance.

Machanidas, seeing as he broke off from the pursuit that his army was fleeing and realizing that he had rushed too far forward and lost all hope for the campaign, immediately tried to gather the mercenaries around him into a compact body and break through the scattered pursuers.

Some at first stayed with him, seeing his plan and believing that this was their only hope of safety.

But when they arrived and saw that the Achaeans were holding the bridge over the ditch, they at once lost heart, drifted away from him, and each man began to seek his own safety.

Then the tyrant, despairing of the way over the bridge, rode along beside the ditch, searching vigorously for some crossing-place.

Chapter 18 Fall of Machanidas

Philopoemen recognized Machanidas by his purple cloak and the trappings of his horse. He left Anaxidamus and his men behind, urging them to guard the passage carefully and spare none of the mercenaries, since these were always the men who strengthened the tyrannies in Sparta.

He himself took with him Polyaenus of Cyparissia and Simias, who were then acting as his shield-bearers, and rode on the opposite side of the ditch parallel to the tyrant and those with him.

At that moment only two men were still with Machanidas: Arexidamus and one mercenary.

As soon as Machanidas found a place in the ditch where crossing seemed possible, put spurs to his horse, and forced it over, Philopoemen wheeled sharply against him, struck him a decisive blow with the spear, and then dealt another with the butt-spike, killing the tyrant outright in hand-to-hand combat.

Those riding with Philopoemen did much the same to Arexidamus. The third man, despairing of the crossing, escaped danger at the moment the others were killed.

When both had fallen, Simias and his party at once stripped the bodies, and taking with the armor the tyrant's head as well, hurried off to the pursuers.

They were eager to show the troops the destruction of the enemy commander, so that once convinced they might press the pursuit of their opponents still more boldly and confidently all the way to Tegea.

This indeed contributed greatly to the charge of the troops; for not least because of it they captured Tegea by assault, and on the following days camped by the Eurotas as undisputed masters of the countryside.

After being unable for many years to drive their enemies out of their own land, they now themselves ravaged all Laconia without fear.

They had lost only a small number of their own men in the battle, but had killed not fewer than four thousand Spartans, captured even more than that alive, and taken possession of all the baggage and arms.

Chapter 18a The Value of Analyzing Causes

As Polybius says, what use is it for readers to go through wars and battles, the enslavement of cities, and sieges, if they do not understand the causes by which in each case some succeeded and others failed?

For the outcomes of actions merely entertain those who hear of them, whereas the analysis of the plans formed beforehand, when properly examined, benefits those who love learning.

And above all, a detailed presentation of the handling of each event helps to correct the judgment of attentive readers.

Chapter 19 The Hannibalian War Continued

Who would not pause to admire the man's leadership, courage, and power in the field, if he reflects on the length of this period, and considers the battles both general and particular, the sieges, the changes of cities, the shifting circumstances, and the sweep of the whole design and action, within which Hannibal, while waging war against the Romans in Italy for sixteen continuous years, never once dismissed his forces from the open field, but kept such great multitudes under his control, like a skilled helmsman, free from mutiny either against himself or among one another, though the army he used was not merely of different nations but not even of the same stock.

For he had Libyans, Iberians, Ligurians, Gauls, Phoenicians, Italians, and Greeks, people who by nature shared no law, no custom, no language, and nothing else in common with each other.

And yet the commander's intelligence made such vast and varied differences obey a single order and submit to one purpose, though the circumstances were far from simple and were highly changeable, with Fortune often blowing splendidly in their favor and at other times the reverse.

From this anyone may justly admire the commander's ability in this respect and confidently say that, if he had begun elsewhere in the world and only attacked the Romans last, none of the objectives he set before himself would have escaped him.

As it was, he began with those whom he ought to have attacked last, and with them he both began and ended his career.

Chapter 20 Scipio in Spain, After the Battle of the Metaurus

The forces under Hasdrubal, having gathered the army from the cities where they had spent the winter, advanced and encamped not far from the city called Ilipa, placing their camp at the foot of the hills with open ground in front well suited for battle.

They had seventy thousand infantry, four thousand cavalry, and more than thirty elephants—thirty-two in all.

Publius sent Marcus Junius to Colichas to take over the forces prepared by him, namely three thousand infantry and five hundred cavalry. He himself kept gathering the rest of the allied contingents as he advanced toward his objective.

When he came near Castulo and the region about Baecula, and there joined Marcus and the troops from Colichas, he fell into great uncertainty about the situation.

For without the allies his Roman troops were not strong enough to risk a pitched battle, but to risk everything while depending on allied troops for the final outcome seemed dangerous and very rash.

Still, though perplexed and hemmed in by circumstances, he was driven to make use of the Iberians in such a way that they would create an appearance to the enemy, while the real contest would be carried by his own camp forces. With this plan in mind he marched out with his whole army, having forty-five thousand infantry and about three thousand cavalry.

When he came near the Carthaginians and was within sight, he encamped on some low ridges directly opposite the enemy.

Chapter 21 Futile Attack by Mago

Mago, thinking the moment favorable for an attack while the Romans were making camp, took most of his own cavalry and Masinissa with the Numidians and rode against the encampment, convinced that he would catch Publius off guard.

But Scipio had long foreseen what was coming and had stationed cavalry equal in number to the Carthaginian horse under cover of a hill.

When they charged unexpectedly, many of the enemy wheeled round at once in panic because of the surprise and fell away, while the rest engaged the enemy and fought bravely.

But the Carthaginians were at a disadvantage because of the superior agility of the Roman horsemen coming downhill, and after a short resistance, with many losses, they gave way.

At first they conducted their retreat in order, but when the Romans pressed them they broke up their squadrons and fled under their own camp.

As a result the Romans became more confident for the coming battle, while the Carthaginians experienced the opposite.

Even so, during the next few days both sides drew out their forces on the plain between the camps, skirmished with cavalry and light troops, tested one another, and then moved to decide the whole matter.

Chapter 22 Defeat of Hasdrubal Son of Gesco

On this occasion Publius seems to have used two stratagems.

For he observed that Hasdrubal was late in bringing out his army and regularly placed the Libyans in the center with the elephants in front of both wings, while he himself was accustomed to take the field somewhat later, putting the Romans in the center opposite the Libyans and placing the Iberians on the wings. But on the day when he decided to bring matters to a decision, by reversing these arrangements he gave great help toward victory to his own forces and placed the enemy at no small disadvantage.

At first light he sent his attendants out and ordered all the military tribunes and soldiers to eat breakfast, arm themselves, and assemble outside the palisade.

When this had been done, and all obeyed eagerly because they guessed what was coming, he first sent forward the cavalry and light-armed troops with instructions to approach the enemy camp and begin skirmishing boldly.

He himself followed with the infantry just as the sun was rising, and when he reached the middle of the plain he drew them up in the reverse of his usual order, placing the Iberians in the center and the Roman troops on the wings.

The Carthaginians, with cavalry suddenly pressing close to the camp and the rest of the army already deploying in sight, scarcely had time to arm.

Therefore Hasdrubal and his officers were compelled, while their men were still unfed and unprepared, to send their cavalry and light troops out at once into the plain against the opposing cavalry, and to form up their infantry not far from the foothills on the level ground, as was their custom.

For some time the Romans remained still. But as the day advanced, and the struggle among the light troops remained indecisive because the men under pressure kept retreating to their own phalanxes and then turning again to fight, Publius at that point withdrew the skirmishers through the intervals between the standards, divided them, one part to each wing, behind the battle line, first placing the javelin-fighters and then the cavalry after them, and began the advance at first head-on.

When he had come to within about four stades of the enemy, he ordered the Iberians to keep their ranks and continue advancing in the same way, [...].

Chapter 23 Scipio Outflanks the Enemy

He ordered the right wing to wheel outward to the right and the left wing the opposite way. He himself took from the right wing the three leading squadrons of cavalry, while Lucius Marcius and Marcus Junius took the corresponding force from the left, and in front of these they placed the usual javelin-fighters and three companies of infantry—this formation of infantry the Romans call a cohort.

The men on one side wheeled shieldwise and those on the other spearwise, then advanced straight at the enemy with great energy, while the units behind successively moved up and followed the turning movement.

When these troops had come to within no great distance of the enemy, while the Iberians in the frontal line still remained a considerable way off because they were advancing at a walking pace, the Roman forces struck both enemy wings at once exactly as Scipio had intended from the start.

The later movements, by which the troops following behind came up and formed on the same straight line with those in front and joined battle with the enemy, were opposite to one another in their arrangement, the right wing being the reverse of the left, and within each wing the infantry the reverse of the cavalry.

For on the right wing the cavalry and light troops came up spearwise and tried to outflank the enemy, while the infantry came into line the other way.

On the left wing, by contrast, the companies advanced spearwise, while the cavalry with the javelin-men came up from the rein side.

Thus by this movement the right of the cavalry and light troops on both wings effectively became their left.

The general paid little attention to that lesser point and concentrated on the greater one, namely the outflanking movement, and he reasoned correctly.

For a commander must understand what is happening, but he must use whatever movements suit the occasion.

Chapter 24 Carthaginians Driven From Spain

Once these troops had closed, the elephants, being pelted with javelins and thrown into confusion on all sides by the skirmishers and cavalry, suffered badly and did no less harm to friends than to enemies, since in their blind rushes they kept trampling and killing whoever came under them on either side.

As for the infantry, the Carthaginian wings were being broken, while the center, where the Libyans stood and which was the most useful part of the army, remained inactive to the end.

For they could neither leave their own post to go aid the wings because of the Iberian advance, nor, by staying where they were, could they do anything effective, since the enemy opposite them did not come to close quarters.

Even so, for a time the wings fought bravely, because on both sides the struggle concerned everything.

But by now the midday heat was at its height, and the Carthaginians were giving way because they had not taken the field when they themselves intended and had been prevented from making the proper preparations.

The Romans, by contrast, had the advantage both in strength and in morale, especially because through the general's foresight their most effective troops had been matched against the weakest of the enemy.

At first Hasdrubal's men, pressed step by step, retired in order. Then they gave way in a body and withdrew toward the foothills, and when the Romans pressed still harder they fled headlong into the camp.

If some god had not aided their escape, they would have been driven out of the camp at once.

But an extraordinary storm gathered in the sky, and when a violent and unbroken downpour burst upon them, the Romans only with difficulty got back to their own camp.

Many Romans lost their lives in the fire while trying to recover the silver and gold that had melted and run together.

Chapter 24a A Saying of Scipio

When everyone was congratulating Publius after he had driven the Carthaginians out of Iberia, and was urging him to rest and take his ease on the ground that he had brought the war to an end, he said that he counted them fortunate for having such hopes, but that he himself was now more than ever considering how he should begin the war against the Carthaginians.

For until now, he said, the Carthaginians had been making war on the Romans, but now Fortune had handed the Romans the chance to carry the war over against the Carthaginians.

And when Publius spoke with Sophax, being naturally gifted in this respect, he dealt with him so graciously and skillfully that Hasdrubal said to Sophax on the following days that Publius had seemed more formidable to him in conversation than in arms.

Chapter 25 Scipio Suppresses A Mutiny in Spain

When a mutiny broke out among some of the Roman camp, Publius, though he already had plenty of experience in affairs, nevertheless found himself in greater perplexity and difficulty than ever before. And this was only natural.

For just as in the case of bodies, external causes of harm—such as cold, heat, fatigue, or wounds—can be guarded against before they occur and are easy to treat once they do occur, while the swellings and diseases that arise from the body itself are both hard to foresee and hard to cure, so we must think about constitutions and armies in the same way.

Against attacks and wars from outside, the means of preparation and defense are easily at hand for those who pay attention, but against rivalries, factional uprisings, and disturbances arising within, the remedy is difficult and demands great dexterity and exceptional quickness of mind.

Still, there is one rule that, in my opinion, suits armies, cities, and bodies alike.

It is this: never allow any of these to remain idle and inactive for long, least of all in times of prosperity and when supplies are abundant.

But Publius, being, as I said from the beginning, exceptionally careful, sharp-minded, and energetic, gathered the tribunes and proposed some such solution to the present troubles as follows.

He said that they must promise the soldiers payment of their arrears, and in order to make the promise credible they must now openly and zealously collect the contributions already assessed on the cities for the maintenance of the whole army, as though the money were being gathered for the settlement of the pay.

The same tribunes were then to go back and ask and urge the mutineers to lay aside their folly and come to him to receive their rations and pay, whether they wished to do so in groups or all together.

Once that was done, he said, they could then decide at the proper moment what action ought to be taken.

Chapter 26 Scipio's Plan to Punish the Rebels

With this in mind they turned their attention to the matter of money.

[...] When the tribunes had explained what had been decided, Publius asked the council what ought to be done next.

They resolved to announce a day on which the mutineers must appear, to grant terms to the mass of the men, but to punish the guilty leaders severely; these numbered thirty-five.

When the appointed day arrived and the rebels came in for the settlement and the payment of their arrears, Publius secretly instructed the tribunes who had gone as envoys to meet the mutineers, and

for each man to single out five of the ringleaders, greet them kindly as soon as they met, and invite them to their own quarters if possible, or at least to dinner or some similar gathering.

To the army with him he gave orders to prepare rations for a longer expedition three days beforehand, as though they were to march with Marcus against Andobales.

This news made the mutineers more confident, for they supposed that power would lie chiefly in their own hands once they joined the general, since the other camps would then be separated from him.

Chapter 27 Suppression of the Mutiny

As the mutineers drew near the city, orders were given to the rest of the soldiers to march out at dawn on the next day with full equipment.

But the tribunes and prefects were instructed that, when they were marching out [...], after this they should first lay down the baggage, keep the soldiers in arms at the gate, divide them among all the gates, and take care that none of the mutineers got out.

Those detailed to meet them accordingly joined the newcomers and, following their instructions, courteously led away those who were responsible.

These officers had also been told that, once the men had eaten dinner, they were to seize the thirty-five, bind them, and keep them under guard, allowing no one from inside to go out except the messenger who was to report to the general from each group that the deed had been done.

When the tribunes had carried out their orders, the general at daybreak on the following day saw that the new arrivals were gathered in the marketplace and summoned the assembly.

As all ran together in the usual way at the signal, their minds were suspended in uncertainty, wondering what sort of appearance the general would present and what they would hear from him about the situation.

Publius then sent orders to the tribunes at the gates to bring the soldiers up under arms and surround the assembly, while he himself came forward and at his very first appearance threw them all into confusion.

For most of them still supposed him to be ill, and when, contrary to expectation, they suddenly saw him appearing strong and vigorous, they were struck with terror.

Chapter 28 Scipio Harangues the Mutinous Troops

He began his speech in something like these terms. He said he was amazed by what grievance had displeased them or what hopes had elated them so far as to attempt secession.

For there are three causes, he said, for which men dare to revolt against their country and their leaders: either they blame and resent those in authority, or they are dissatisfied with their present circumstances, or else, by Zeus, they reach after greater and fairer hopes.

“Now I ask which of these applies to you. Plainly, I suppose, you are angry with me because your rations and pay were not being given you.

But that was not a charge against me, for during my command none of your pay was lacking.

If the fault came from Rome, because old arrears were not now being settled— was it right to bring this complaint by becoming deserters from your fatherland and enemies of the power that reared you, or to come to me in person, state the matter, and ask your friends to help and support you?

I think the latter was better. For men serving some master for wages may perhaps sometimes be excused for revolting against those who pay them, but men fighting for themselves and for their own wives and children cannot be excused at all.

It is much the same as if a man, claiming that his own father had wronged him in money matters, should come with arms to kill the one from whom he received life itself.

Or perhaps I laid upon you more hardships and dangers than on the others, while distributing the advantages and rewards more generously to others?

But you do not dare to say that, and even if you dared, you would not be able to prove it.

What then is the grievance for which you are dissatisfied with us and have now made this secession? That is what I want to learn, though I think none of you will either speak it or even conceive it.”

Chapter 29 Scipio’s Speech Continued

“No, not one of you. Nor can it be that you are troubled by the state of affairs. When has fortune flowed more favorably? When has Rome won greater advantages? When have those serving in the field had larger hopes than now?

But perhaps one of the faint-hearted will say that among our enemies the benefits appeared greater and their hopes larger and more secure. Among which enemies, then?

Among Andobales and Mandonius? And which of you does not know that these men first broke faith with the Carthaginians and revolted to us, and now, after once again violating their oaths and pledges, have made themselves our enemies?

A fine thing indeed—to become enemies of your own fatherland by trusting such men as these.

Nor did you place your hopes in yourselves, as though you would become masters of Iberia. For even if you had stood in line with Andobales, you were not strong enough to risk battle against us, much less if you had stood alone.

What then did you rely on? Was it perhaps the experience and courage of the leaders you have now chosen, or even the rods and axes carried before them? About these men it is not honorable even to say more.

No, my men, none of these things can serve you, nor can you state the slightest just complaint either against us or against your country.

Therefore I will make your defense before Rome and before myself on the basis of what all mankind agrees is just.

And that is this: every crowd is easily misled and easily led into anything. That is why the multitude and the sea are always liable to the same condition.

For just as the sea in its own nature is harmless to those who use it and remains at rest, but when violent winds fall upon it it seems to sailors to take on the character of the winds that whip it round, so too the crowd always appears and becomes, for those dealing with it, whatever sort of leaders and advisers it happens to have.

Therefore I and all the officers of the camp now make peace with you and give our pledge that we will bear no grudge.

But toward those who were responsible we remain utterly unreconciled and hold that they must be punished as their offenses against their country and against us deserve."

Chapter 30 Execution of the Ringleaders

Just as he was saying these things, the soldiers standing in arms around the assembly, acting on orders, clashed their swords against their shields, and at the same moment the men responsible for the mutiny were brought in naked and in chains [...].

Such terror seized the crowd from the fear all around them and the horrors before their eyes that, while some were being scourged and others beheaded, not one man changed expression or uttered a sound, but all stood gaping and stunned by what was happening.

So the ringleaders of the evil, after suffering torture, were dragged dead through the middle. The rest then received from the general and the other officers a public pledge that no one would bear a grudge against anyone, and they themselves came forward one by one and swore before the tribunes that they would obey the commands of their officers and harbor no thought hostile to Rome.

Thus Publius, having rightly corrected the beginnings of a great danger, restored his forces once more to their original condition.

Chapter 31 Scipio Proposes to Fight Andobales

Publius at once assembled the troops at Carthage into a meeting and spoke about the boldness of Andobales and his treachery toward them.

By developing these points at length, he stirred the mass of the soldiers to eagerness for an attack on the dynasts mentioned.

Then he reviewed their earlier campaigns against Iberians and Carthaginians fighting together under Carthaginian commanders, and said that, since they had always defeated them, it was not fitting for them now to hesitate at the thought of fighting Iberians alone under Andobales.

Accordingly he said he would not even accept any Iberian ally at all, but would bring the struggle on by means of Romans alone, so that it might become plain to all that it was not by using Iberians against the Carthaginians, as some people say, that they had driven the Carthaginians out of Iberia, but that Roman valor and their own courage had defeated both Carthaginians and Celtiberians.

Having said this, he urged them to be of one mind and of good courage, and to go into this struggle as boldly as they would go against anyone else. As for victory, he said that with the gods' help he had taken all proper thought for securing it.

This inspired such eagerness and confidence in the troops that, simply from their appearance, they looked like men who already saw the enemy before them and were just about to engage.

Chapter 32 Scipio Defeats Andobales

After saying this, he dismissed the assembly. On the next day he broke camp and advanced; reaching the Ebro on the tenth day and crossing it, he encamped on the fourth day after that near the enemy, with a certain valley lying between his camp and theirs.

On the next day he drove some of the livestock that followed the army into the valley, after giving Gaius instructions to have the cavalry ready and ordering certain tribunes to prepare the javelin-fighters.

The Iberians quickly rushed upon the animals, and Scipio released some of the javelin-men. As these engaged, and more men came to the support of either side, a large skirmish of infantry developed in the valley.

When the moment supplied a good opening for attack, Gaius, having the cavalry ready as ordered, charged the skirmishers and cut them off from the foothills, so that most of them were scattered through the valley and destroyed by the cavalry.

This enraged the barbarians; and fearing that, because of their earlier defeat, they might seem utterly demoralized, they marched out at daybreak and drew up their whole force for battle.

Publius was ready for the engagement, but when he saw that the Iberians were descending irrationally into the valley and posting not only their cavalry but even their infantry on the level ground, he waited,

wanting as many of them as possible to make use of this position. He trusted his own cavalry, and still more his infantry, because in regular, close hand-to-hand fighting both the equipment and the men on his side were far superior to the Iberians.

Chapter 33 Scipio's Return To Rome

When it seemed to him that the proper moment had come, he drew up [...] against the enemy stationed on the foothills, but against those who had descended into the valley he led out the main body from the camp and attacked the enemy infantry with four cohorts.

At the same time Gaius Laelius, with the cavalry, moved forward over the hills that slope from the camp toward the valley, charged the Iberian horse in the rear, and occupied them in fighting him.

The enemy infantry, therefore, deprived of the support of the cavalry in reliance on which they had come down into the valley, were pressed and overwhelmed in the battle; and the cavalry suffered much the same.

Hemmed in within a narrow space and at a disadvantage, they were destroyed more by each other than by the enemy, as their own infantry pressed on them from the flank, the hostile infantry faced them in front, and the cavalry surrounded them from the rear.

In a battle that developed in this way, nearly all who had descended into the valley were destroyed, while those on the foothills escaped.

These were the light-armed troops, amounting to a third of the whole army, and with them Andobales too escaped alive and fled to some fortified place.

Publius, having brought his work in Iberia to completion, arrived at Tarraco in the highest spirits, bringing to his country a most splendid victory and the material for a splendid triumph.

Then, eager not to miss the settlement of the consuls at Rome, he put all Iberian affairs in order, handed the army over to Junius and Marcius, and himself sailed with Gaius and his other friends for Rome.

Chapter 34 Antiochus Moves from Bactria Through Interior Asia

For Euthydemus himself was a Magnesian, and in his reply he said that Antiochus was wrong to be so eager to drive him from his kingdom.

For he had not himself revolted from the king; rather, after others had revolted, he had overthrown their descendants and in that way gained control of the Bactrian realm.

After saying more to the same effect, he urged Teleas to mediate the settlement in a friendly spirit, and to appeal to Antiochus not to grudge him the royal title and position, since, if he did not grant what

was asked, neither of them would be secure.

For there were no small numbers of nomads nearby, who were a danger to both, and if either side admitted them, the country would plainly be turned barbarian.

Having said this, he sent Teleas to Antiochus.

The king had long been looking for some resolution of affairs, and when he learned these things from Teleas he readily listened to proposals for peace for the reasons already given.

After Teleas had gone back and forth many times between the two, Euthydemus finally sent his son Demetrius to confirm the agreements. The king received him, judged from his appearance, his conversation, and his bearing that the young man was worthy of royal power, and first promised to give him one of his own daughters; next he granted the royal title to his father.

After drawing up written agreements about the remaining matters and concluding a sworn alliance, he broke camp, liberally provisioning his army and taking along the elephants belonging to Euthydemus.

He crossed the Caucasus and descended into India, renewed his friendship with Sophagasenus, king of the Indians, and after receiving more elephants, bringing the total to one hundred and fifty, he again supplied his army there. He himself marched off with the force, but left Androsthenes of Cyzicus behind to bring back the treasure that the king had agreed to give him.

Then, passing through Arachosia and crossing the river Erymanthus, he came by way of Drangene into Carmania, where, since winter was already closing in, he went into winter quarters.

So this was the end of Antiochus' campaign into the upper regions, by which he not only brought the upper satraps into obedience to his authority but also the coastal cities and the dynasts on this side of Taurus, and in general secured his kingdom by overwhelming all his subjects with the impression made by his courage and endurance.

For by this expedition he proved himself worthy of kingship not only to the peoples of Asia but also to those of Europe.

Book XII

The contrast of historical methods: the library scholar Timaeus versus the eyewitness explorer Polybius. Book XII passim.

Chapter 1 Geography of Libya

Polybius says, in his twelfth book, that the land of Byzacium lies around the Syrtes: “having a perimeter of two thousand stades, and circular in shape.”

Hippo, a city of Libya.

Polybius, in the twelfth book.

Singa, a city of Libya, as Polybius states in the twelfth book.

Tabraca, a city of Libya.

Polybius, in the twelfth book.

Chalkeia, a city of Libya:

So says the polymath in the third book of his *Libyan Matters*, following Demosthenes; and finding fault with him, Polybius writes thus in the twelfth book: “He is also greatly mistaken about Chalkeia: for it is not a city at all, but a set of bronze-foundries.”

Chapter 2 The Lotus

Polybius of Megalopolis, having been an eyewitness, reports much the same things as Herodotus and his followers about the so-called lotus in Libya, writing as follows in the twelfth book of his *Histories*:

The lotus is a tree that is not large, but rough and thorny; it has a green leaf resembling that of the rhamnus (buckthorn), somewhat deeper in color and broader.

The fruit, at first, is like ripe white myrtle-berries both in color and in size, but as it grows it turns crimson in color, and in size it comes to resemble round olives, and it has a very small stone.

When it has ripened, they gather it: the portion meant for the household slaves they pound up with groats and pack into jars, while the portion meant for the free men they likewise store away after removing the stone, and on this they feed.

The food is much like a fig or a date, but superior in fragrance.

A wine is also made from it by soaking and crushing it in water—sweet and pleasant to the taste, like good mead—which they drink without diluting it with water.

It cannot keep for more than ten days; and so they make it only in small quantities, as the need arises. They also make vinegar from the fruit.

Chapter 3 Timaeus Wrong about Libya

Anyone would marvel at the excellence of the country's soil, but of Timaeus one would have to say that he has not only failed to investigate the facts about Libya, but is also childish and utterly incapable of reasoning, and still bound fast to those old traditional tales we have inherited—that Libya is wholly sandy, parched, and barren.

The same applies to its animals. For the abundance of horses, cattle, and sheep, and along with these of goats, throughout the country is so great that I doubt whether its match could be found anywhere else in the inhabited world, because many of the tribes in Libya do not rely on cultivated crops, but draw their livelihood from their flocks and live among their flocks.

And indeed, who has not recorded the number and strength of its elephants, lions, and leopards, and besides these the beauty of its antelopes and the size of its ostriches? Of these there is nothing whatever in Europe, whereas Libya is full of the creatures just mentioned.

About all this Timaeus, having recorded nothing, gives an account that—as though deliberately—is the very opposite of what truly exists.

And just as he has improvised about the affairs of Libya, so too he has done about the island called Cyrnus (Corsica).

For in mentioning that island in his second book, he says that there are in it many wild goats, sheep, and wild oxen, and besides these deer, hares, wolves, and some of the other animals, and that the people busy themselves in hunting these and pass their whole way of life in such pursuits.

But on the island in question there is not so much as a wild goat or ox—nor even a hare, a wolf, a deer, or any other animal of the kind—except foxes, rabbits, and wild sheep.

Chapter 4 The Errors of Timaeus

The rabbit, seen from a distance, looks like a small hare, but when one takes it in hand it shows a great difference both in appearance and in taste; and it lives, for the greater part, underground. All the animals on the island, however, do seem to be wild, for the following reason.

The herdsmen cannot follow alongside their flocks at pasture, because the island is wooded, precipitous, and rugged; but whenever they wish to gather them, they take their stand at convenient

spots and call the animals together with a trumpet, and every one of them runs unfailingly to its own trumpet.

Consequently, when people sail up to the island and see goats or cattle grazing untended, and then try to seize them, the animals will not let them approach, since they are unaccustomed to them, but flee.

But when the herdsman, seeing the men disembark, sounds his trumpet, the animals at once rush headlong and run together to the trumpet. This gives the impression of wildness—about which Timaeus, having inquired poorly and perfunctorily, made a slapdash report.

Their obedience to the trumpet is nothing to wonder at: for in Italy too those who raise swine manage the pasturing in the same way.

The swineherds do not follow at the heels of the beasts, as among the Greeks, but go on ahead sounding the horn at intervals, while the beasts follow behind and run together toward the sound; and so great a familiarity develops in the animals toward their own horn that those who hear of it for the first time are amazed and can scarcely believe it.

For owing to the abundance of labor and the other resources available, the droves of swine in Italy turn out to be enormous—especially among the Etruscans and the Gauls—so that a single breeding sow rears a thousand pigs, and sometimes even more.

For this reason they make their drives out from the night-pens according to litters and ages.

Hence, when several droves are brought forward to the same place, they cannot keep them sorted by litter, but they get mixed up with one another both during the drives out and at pasture, and likewise during the drives home.

From these circumstances the device of the horn has been contrived by them for separating the animals, whenever they get mixed together, without toil or trouble.

For when one of the herdsmen goes off toward one quarter sounding his horn, and another turns aside toward another, the beasts separate of their own accord and follow their own horns with such eagerness that it is impossible by any means to force or to check their rush.

But among the Greeks, in the oak-forests, when the herds get mixed together while chasing the mast, the man who has more hands and seizes the opportunity gathers up his neighbor’s beasts along with his own and drives them off.

And sometimes a thief, lying in wait, drives them off, without the herdsman in charge even realizing how he lost them—because the animals stray far from their drivers in their scramble for the mast, just when it is beginning to fall. But enough of this.

Chapter 4a Timaeus' Petty Charges against Theopompus and Ephorus

Having torn Timaeus apart on many points, Polybius goes on to say: Who could still grant indulgence for such mistakes, especially to Timaeus, who fastens on others over hangnail-sized trifles like these?

Among these charges he accuses Theopompus on the ground that, although Dionysius made his crossing back from Sicily to Corinth in a warship, Theopompus says that Dionysius arrived in a round-bottomed merchant vessel.

And again he falsely charges Ephorus with ignorance, claiming that Ephorus says that Dionysius the Elder took over the government when he was twenty-three years old, held power for forty-two years, and ended his life having reached the age of sixty-three.

Now no one, surely, would say that this slip belongs to the historian; by common consent it belongs to the copyist.

For either Ephorus must have surpassed even Coroebus and Margites in stupidity, if he was incapable of reckoning that forty-two added to twenty-three makes sixty-five; or, since this could never be believed of Ephorus, it is plain that the error [...] is the copyist's, while no one would approve of Timaeus's fondness for fault-finding and accusation.

Chapter 4b Timaeus on the Roman Horse Sacrifice

Moreover, in his account of Pyrrhus he says again that the Romans, even now, keep up a memorial of the destruction at Ilium: on a certain day they spear to death a warhorse in front of the city, in the place called the Campus, because the capture of Troy came about through the horse known as the Wooden Horse—a thing more childish than anything.

Chapter 4c Why Timaeus Fails at Inquiry

For at that rate one would have to say that all barbarians are descendants of the Trojans; since nearly all of them, or if not all, at least the majority, whenever they are about to begin a war or to stake everything in a decisive battle against some enemy, sacrifice a horse beforehand and slaughter it for omens, reading the future from the way the animal falls. As for Timaeus, in this matter of irrationality he seems to me to display not only inexperience but, even more, the great pretentiousness of a late and shallow learner, since, just because they sacrifice a horse, he immediately supposed that they do so because Troy is thought to have been captured by means of a horse.

But that he has given a poor account both of the affairs of Libya and of those of Sardinia, and most of all of those concerning Italy, is evident from these instances; and in general that the part of his work

dealing with inquiry and the gathering of evidence has been utterly slovenly with him—though this is the most essential part of history.

For since events occur simultaneously in many places, and it is impossible for the same man to be present in several places at the same time, and likewise impossible for one man to be an eyewitness of all the regions of the inhabited world and of their distinctive features, what remains is to make inquiry from as many sources as possible, to trust those who are worthy of credence, and to be a sound judge of the reports that come in.

Chapter 4d Timaeus and the Spring Arethusa

It is in this very area, where he makes the greatest pretensions, that Timaeus seems to me to fall furthest short of the truth.

For so far is he from investigating the truth accurately through others that, even concerning the things of which he has been an eyewitness and the places he has himself visited, not even about these does he give us any sound account.

This will become clear if we show, in his treatment of Sicily, that he is ignorant of the very things on which he pronounces.

For there will hardly be need of many more words about his lying, if he is found to be ignorant and wide of the truth even in the regions where he was born and bred—and among these, in the most conspicuous of them.

He says, then, that the spring Arethusa in Syracuse draws its sources from the river Alpheus in the Peloponnese, which flows through Arcadia and past Olympia; for that river, he claims, sinks beneath the earth and, after being carried four thousand stades under the Sicilian sea, comes up again in Syracuse.

And this, he says, was made clear when, at a certain time, torrential rains broke out during the season of the Olympic games and the river flooded the area around the sacred precinct, and Arethusa threw up a quantity of dung from the oxen sacrificed at the festival, and cast up a golden bowl, which people recognized as belonging to the festival and retrieved.

Chapter 5 Aristotle's Account of Locri is Correct

It so happens that I have several times visited the city of the Locrians and rendered them necessary services.

For it was through me that they obtained release from the expedition to Iberia, and likewise from the one to Dalmatia, both of which, under the terms of their treaty, they were obliged to furnish to the Romans by sea.

Having thereby been freed from considerable hardship, danger, and expense, they repaid me with every kind of honor and kindness. For this reason I have all the more cause to speak well of the Locrians rather than the opposite.

Nevertheless, I have not hesitated to say and to write that the account of their colonization handed down by Aristotle happens to be truer than the one told by Timaeus.

For I know from the people themselves that they agree that the tradition about the colonization which has been passed down to them from their fathers is the one Aristotle has given, not Timaeus. And they offered proofs of this such as the following.

First, that among them all the distinctions inherited through ancestors derive from the women, not the men—so that, for example, those reckoned noble among them are immediately those said to be descended from the hundred households.

These hundred households are the ones that were singled out by the Locrians before the colony set out, the households from which the Locrians, in accordance with the oracle, were to choose by lot the maidens to be sent to Ilium.

Some of these women, they say, set out together with the colony, and it is their descendants who are still now reckoned noble and called “those of the hundred households.”

Again, concerning the woman they call the “cup-bearer,” a tradition of this kind had been handed down to them: that at the time when they drove out the Sicels who held this region of Italy—a people among whom the boy of the most renowned and noble of the chief men led the way in the sacrifices—they themselves, having taken over many of the Sicel customs as well (since they had no ancestral ones of their own), preserved this one too from those people, but corrected this very point: they did not make the cup-bearer a boy of their own, but a maiden, on account of the nobility that descended through the women.

Chapter 6 The Epizephyrian Locrians

As for treaties, with the Locrians in Greece there were none, nor was it said among them that any had ever existed; but with the Sicels they all had one preserved in their tradition.

Concerning this they said that, at the time when, on their first arrival, they found the Sicels occupying this land in which they now dwell, and these Sicels, struck with fear of them, received them out of dread, they made an agreement of this kind: that they would truly be friendly toward them and hold the country in common, “for as long as they set foot upon this ground and bear their heads upon their shoulders.”

While oaths of this sort were being taken, they say that the Locrians put earth inside the soles of their shoes and concealed heads of garlic on their shoulders, and so swore the oaths; and then, having

shaken the earth out of their shoes and thrown away the heads of garlic, they drove the Sicels out of the country not long afterward, when the opportunity arose.

This, then, is the story told among the Locrians.

Chapter 6a Freedmen Claim Their Masters' Kinship

From these considerations one would, on reflection, side with Aristotle rather than with Timaeus; and indeed what follows in Timaeus is utterly absurd.

Chapter 6b Locrian Wives and Spartan Customs

For to suppose, as he suggests, that it was not likely that the servants of those who had fought as allies of the Spartans should transfer their masters' goodwill to their masters' friends—that is naïve; for not only the friendships, but also the ties of hospitality and the kinships of their masters, are what former slaves, when they have unexpectedly prospered and time has gone by, try to claim for themselves and to renew, even more than their own natural connections, since by this very means they are eager to wipe out the diminished standing and the disrepute that formerly attached to them, preferring to appear descendants of their masters rather than freedmen. And this is most likely to have happened in the case of the Locrians; for, having moved far away from those who knew the facts and having taken time as their accomplice, they were not so foolish as to pursue practices by which they would only renew the memory of their own shortcomings, rather than, on the contrary, the practices by which they would cover them up.

That is why they reasonably gave the city its name from the women, and claimed kinship through the women, and furthermore kept renewing the ancestral friendships and alliances that came down through the women.

Consequently, the fact that the Athenians ravaged their territory is no proof at all that Aristotle is lying; for, since it is reasonable, on the grounds already stated—even if they were ten times over slaves—that those who set out from the Locrians and settled in Italy should have claimed the friendship of the Spartans, it becomes equally reasonable that the Athenians should have been hostile toward all the aforesaid peoples, judging them not so much by their descent as by their political conduct.

"But by Zeus," it may be objected, "how is it that the Spartans themselves used to send back their men in their prime to their homeland for the sake of begetting children, yet would not allow the Locrians to do anything similar?" Now each of these points differs greatly, not only in plausibility, but also in truth.

For the Spartans were not going to forbid the Locrians, while doing the same thing themselves—that would be absurd—nor, even if the Spartans had ordered it, would the Locrians necessarily have done the like.

For among the Spartans it was both an ancestral and a customary thing for one woman to have three husbands, or four, and sometimes even more, when they were brothers, and for their children to be held in common; and it was considered honorable and customary, once a man had begotten enough children, to give his wife in marriage to one of his friends.

Therefore the Locrians, being bound neither by the curses nor by the oaths which the Spartans had sworn—not to return home before they had taken Messene by storm—reasonably had no share in the collective expedition, but, making their returns home individually and only rarely, they gave their women the chance to associate more familiarly with the slaves than with their original husbands, and the unmarried girls still more so—which became the cause of the migration. —

Chapter 7 Timaeus and the Character of a Historian

Timaeus records many falsehoods, and he seems to do so not at all from inexperience in such matters, but because he is blinded by contentiousness: once he sets out to blame someone, or on the contrary to praise him, he forgets everything else and oversteps the mark by a great deal.

But let what we have said on Aristotle's behalf suffice—how, and by attending to what evidence, he produced such an account of the Locrians.

What I am about to say about Timaeus and his whole composition, and about the duty of those engaged in writing history generally, will take this kind of treatment.

That both of them framed their attempt according to probable reasoning, and that there are more grounds for credence in Aristotle's account, I think anyone would agree from what has been said; yet it is impossible in these matters to determine anything as true and settled once and for all.

Even so, let us grant that Timaeus gives the more probable account. Is it for that reason necessary that those who in their histories tell the less probable story should have to listen to every harsh word and outcry and all but stand trial for their lives? Surely not.

For we have said that those who write falsehoods through ignorance deserve a kindly correction and pardon, but those who do so by deliberate choice deserve relentless condemnation.

Chapter 8 Timaeus Criticises Aristotle

It must therefore either be shown that Aristotle, in the account just discussed, spoke about the Locrians for the sake of favor, profit, or personal quarrel; or, if no one dares to claim this, then it must be admitted that those who treat their neighbors with such hostility and bitterness as Timaeus has used against Aristotle are themselves in the wrong and out of their senses.

For he says that Aristotle is reckless, irresponsible, and rash, and that, on top of this, he has shown insolent audacity toward the city of the Locrians by saying that their colony was made up of runaway

slaves, household servants, adulterers, and kidnappers.

And he says that Aristotle makes these claims so authoritatively that one would think he was one of the generals who had just defeated the Persians at the Cilician Gates in a pitched battle by his own might, rather than a late-learning, odious sophist who had only recently shut up his much-vaunted apothecary's shop—and who, besides, had pushed his way into every court and royal tent, and was a glutton and a gourmet, in everything carried away by his belly.

It seems to me that such language would scarcely be tolerable even from a charlatan and a reckless man hurling words about in a law court—and not even then would he seem moderate.

But a writer of public affairs and a true champion of history would never so much as conceive such things in his own mind, much less dare to put them in writing.

Chapter 9 Timaeus's Statement of Method

Let us now examine Timaeus's own method as well, and set side by side for comparison the statements he has made about this same colony, so that we may learn which of the two better deserves such censure. In the same book, then, he says— no longer using the same kind of merely probable reasoning in his refutations, but claiming that he himself had genuinely gone in person to the Locrians in Greece to investigate the matters concerning the colony.

These Locrians, he says, first showed him written agreements, still preserved even today, made with the original settlers who had been sent out—agreements at the head of which the relationship was set down in these terms: "as parents to their children."

Besides these, there were decrees granting mutual rights of citizenship between the two peoples. And in general, when they heard Aristotle's account of the colony, they were astonished at the writer's effrontery.

Then, crossing over again to the Locrians in Italy, he says he found that their laws and customs likewise accorded not with the unscrupulous ways of household slaves but with a colony of free men: for among them, certainly, penalties have been laid down against kidnappers, just as against adulterers and runaway slaves—none of which would be the case if they were aware of being themselves descended from such people.

Chapter 10 The Investigations of Timaeus

Now the first difficulty one might raise is this: to which of the Locrians did he go, and whom did he question, about these matters?

For if it had been the case that the Locrians in Greece, like those in Italy, all lived in a single city, then perhaps there would be no need for puzzlement, and the matter would be easy to settle.

But since there are two peoples of Locrians, to which of them did he go? And to which cities of the one or the other? And in whose keeping did he find the agreements on record? For none of this is made clear to us.

And yet that this is a specialty of Timaeus's—that it is in this above all that he has set himself in rivalry with other writers, and that this is broadly the very ground of his reputation [...] —I mean his parade of precision in chronology and in records, and his care for that department of research—this, I think, we all recognize.

It is therefore worth wondering how he failed to make clear to us the name of the city in whose keeping he found the document, the place in which the agreement happens to be inscribed, or the magistrates who showed him the record and with whom he held his conversation—so that no one might have any ground for doubt at all, but that, with the place and city fixed, those who disputed the point might be able to ascertain the truth.

By passing over all this, he plainly shows that he is conscious of having lied on purpose. For that Timaeus, had he laid hold of such evidence, would have let none of it slip but would have clung to it, as the saying goes, with both hands—this is evident from the following.

For he is the man who rested his case, by name, on the authority of Echecrates, with whom he says he held his conversation about the Locrians in Italy, and from whom he says he learned these things; and who took the further trouble, so as not to appear to have heard them from some chance informant, of adding that this man's father had earlier been thought worthy of an embassy by Dionysius.

Chapter 11 Timaeus's Use of Chronological Records

Would such a man, then, surely, had he laid hold of a public record or an ancestrally transmitted inscribed pillar, have passed it over in silence? For this is the very man who draws up his comparative tables, tracing the line of the ephors back to its origins and setting them against the kings at Lacedaemon and the archons at Athens, and matching the priestesses at Argos against the Olympic victors, and who convicts the cities of error in these records when they show a discrepancy of as little as three months—this is he.

And indeed it is Timaeus who hunted out the inscribed pillars in the rear chambers of the temples and the records of guest-friendship on the doorposts of the shrines.

He is a man whom we cannot believe either to have been ignorant of any such thing that existed, or, having found it, to have left it out; nor can pardon be granted him on any grounds if he has lied: for, having been a harsh and relentless censurer of his neighbors, he may reasonably expect to meet with relentless accusation from his neighbors in return. Nevertheless, having been plainly convicted of falsehood in these matters, he crosses over to the Locrians in Italy and first says that the constitution and the other humane institutions are shared by both Locrian peoples [...] and that Aristotle and Theophrastus have lied against the city.

Now I am well aware that here too I shall be compelled to digress from my proper task, in laying down and affirming the truth about these matters; yet it was for this very reason that I held over my discussion of Timaeus to a single section, so that I might not again and again be forced to neglect more pressing business.—

That Timaeus says the greatest fault in history is falsehood: hence he also advises those whom he may convict of false statements in their writings to seek some other name for their books, and to call them anything whatever rather than history.—

Chapter 12 Timaeus On Divination

For just as with a carpenter's rule—even if it be shorter in length or narrower in width, yet so long as it possesses the essential property of a rule, he says it must still be called a rule, but when it falls away from straightness and from kinship with the straight line, it must be called anything rather than a rule — in just the same way, he says, with written works: however much they may go astray in their diction, or in their handling, or in any other of their particular parts, yet if they hold fast to the truth, the books may lay claim to the name of history; but when they fall away from truth, they ought no longer to be called history.

Now, that truth must be regarded as the guiding principle of such works, I myself agree—and somewhere in my own work I have said as much, putting it thus: that just as, when the eyes are removed from a living body, the whole is rendered useless, so, if you take away truth from history, what is left of it becomes a worthless tale.—

We said, however, that there are two kinds of falsehood: one arising from ignorance, the other from deliberate intention; and that, of these, those who stray from the truth through ignorance deserve pardon, while toward those who do so by deliberate choice one should be unforgiving.—

These points being agreed between us, I hold that in this very matter of falsehood there is a great difference between what comes about through ignorance and what through deliberate intention—the former admitting of pardon and kindly correction, the latter justly meeting with unforgiving condemnation; and it is to this latter kind, above all, that one would find Timaeus himself liable. That he is indeed such a man, it is now possible to consider.—

Chapter 12a The Locrians and Their Compacts

Of those who break their agreements we say, by way of this proverb, "the Locrians and their compacts." Someone has discovered that this is acknowledged both among the historians and among other people, namely that, at the time of the invasion of the Heraclidae, the Locrians had agreed with the Peloponnesians to raise hostile beacon-fires if it should turn out that the Heraclidae were making their crossing not by way of the Isthmus but by way of Rhium, so that the Peloponnesians, getting advance warning, might guard against their attack; but the Locrians did not do so—quite the contrary,

they raised friendly beacons when the Heraclidae arrived. As a result, the Heraclidae made their crossing in safety, while the Peloponnesians, caught off their guard, unwittingly admitted the enemy into their own land, having been betrayed by the Locrians' breach of faith.

Chapter 12b Timaeus Condemns Callisthenes

[...] to accuse, and to deride the religious raptures of those who dream and rave in their writings; yet as for those who have themselves filled their works with a great deal of such nonsense, one ought to be content if they escape accusation, and not have them running down others as well—which is exactly what has happened in the case of Timaeus.

For he says that Callisthenes was a flatterer for writing such things, and that he was very far from philosophy, attending instead to vulgar dances and to women in Corybantic frenzy; and that he justly met with punishment at Alexander's hands for having corrupted that man's soul as far as he was able; and he praises Demosthenes and the other orators who flourished in that period and says they were worthy of Greece, because they opposed the godlike honors paid to Alexander, whereas the philosopher, by investing a mortal nature with the aegis and the thunderbolt, justly met at the hands of the divine power with the very fate that he met. —

Chapter 13 Timaeus On Democharesand Agathocles

Timaeus claims that Democharesprostituted the upper parts of his body, that he was not fit to blow upon the sacred fire, and that in his practices he had outdone the writings of Botrys and Philaenis and all the other authors of shameless filth.

Yet such abuse and such insinuations are not the sort of thing a cultivated man would have set down—indeed, not even one of those who ply their trade with their bodies from a brothel rooftop would have done so.

And in order to seem credible in his foul language and his utter shamelessness, Timaeus has also fabricated lies against the man, dragging in besides some anonymous comic poet as his witness.

On what grounds do I make this inference? First, from the fact that Demochareswas both born well and raised well, being a nephew of Demosthenes; second, from the fact that he was deemed worthy by the Athenians not only of a generalship but of the other honors as well—none of which would have come his way had he been struggling with such disgraces.

For this reason it seems to me that Timaeus is not so much accusing Democharesas he is accusing the Athenians, if they really did promote such a man and entrust their country and their own lives to one like him.

But none of this is true. For Archedicus the comic poet would not have been the only one to say these things about Democharesas Timaeus claims; rather, many of Antipater's friends would also have said

them—for against Antipater he spoke with great frankness, saying much that could wound not only Antipater himself but also his successors and friends—and so too would many of his political opponents, among whom was Demetrius of Phalerum.

Against Demetrius that man (Democharés) leveled no ordinary accusation in his histories, declaring that he had been the sort of leader of his country, and that he prided himself in his administration on the sort of things, that even a vulgar tax-farmer might boast of.

For Demetrius, he says, used to boast that many goods were sold cheaply throughout the city and that there was abundance of the necessities of life for everyone—on these things he prided himself; and Democharés relates that a snail moving by itself led Demetrius's procession, spitting out spittle, and that along with it asses were paraded through the theater—the point being that the country, having surrendered to others all the fair distinctions of Greece, was doing whatever Cassander commanded—and that Demetrius was not ashamed of these things.

Chapter 14 No Place in History for Abusive Language

But all the same, neither Demetrius nor anyone else ever said anything of the kind about Democharés. And so I, holding the testimony of his own country to be more reliable than the bitterness of Timaeus, confidently declare that the life of Democharés is liable to none of these accusations.

And even if some such disgrace had truly attached to Democharés, what occasion or what circumstance compelled Timaeus to enter these matters into his history?

For just as sensible men, when they decide to take revenge on their enemies, do not consider first what the other man deserves to suffer, but rather what it befits themselves to do [...] so too with abuse: one should not regard first what it is fitting for our enemies to hear, but should reckon as most essential what it is proper for us to say.

As for those who measure everything by their own passions and ambitions, one is bound to be suspicious of all they say and to distrust everything spoken by them beyond what is right.

And so in the present case we may reasonably be thought to set aside what Timaeus has said against Democharés, while he himself would not reasonably obtain pardon or credence from anyone, because he so plainly falls away from what is proper in his abuse, owing to his inborn bitterness.

Chapter 15 Timaeus Blinded by Personal Malignity

For neither do I approve of his abuse against Agathocles, even if Agathocles was the most impious of all men. I mean the passages in which, at the close of his whole history, he says that Agathocles in his youth was a common prostitute, available to the most unrestrained, a jackdaw, a buzzard, offering his backside to the front of all who wished.

In addition to this, he says that when Agathocles died, his wife, weeping over him, lamented in this way: “What did I not do for you? What did you not do for me?”

In the face of these passages too one might not only repeat what was said about Democharés, but also marvel at the extravagance of his bitterness.

For that Agathocles must by nature have possessed great advantages is clear from the very things that Timaeus himself declares.

For if he came to Syracuse fleeing the potter’s wheel, the smoke, and the clay, at about eighteen years of age, and after some time, setting out from such a starting point, became master of all Sicily, brought the Carthaginians into the gravest dangers, and finally, having grown old in power, ended his life bearing the title of king—does it not follow that Agathocles must have been some great and marvelous figure, and that he possessed many resources and capacities for practical affairs?

Concerning these things the historian ought to relate to posterity not only what tends to slander and accusation, but also what redounds to the man’s praise; for this is the proper task of history.

But Timaeus, blinded by his own bitterness, has reported his faults to us spitefully and with exaggeration, while he has omitted his successes altogether, not realizing that falsehood is no less present among those who [...] what actually happened [...] writing in their histories.

As for me, I have refrained from adding further measure for the sake of dwelling on his hatefulness, but I have not left out what was germane to my own purpose. —

Chapter 16 The Laws of Zaleucus

Two young men were in dispute over a certain slave. It happened that the slave had been in the possession of one of them for a longer time; but the other, having come to the farm two days earlier when the master was not present, had carried off the slave to his own house by force, and then the first man, on learning of it, came to the house, took the slave, and was leading him away before the magistrate, declaring that he ought to have possession by providing sureties.

For the law of Zaleucus, he said, ordained that, pending the trial, the disputed property should remain in the keeping of the party from whose possession the seizure had been made.

But the other man, according to the same law, claimed that the seizure had been made from himself—for it was from his house that the slave was being taken away to the magistrate—so that the presiding magistrates, being at a loss about the matter, called in and shared the case with the Cosmopolis.

He interpreted the law, saying that the seizure is always reckoned to be made from those in whose possession the disputed property had last rested undisputed for some period of time; but that if someone takes it by force from another and carries it off to himself, and then the prior owner makes his seizure from this man, that seizure is not valid.

When the young man took this badly and denied that this was the lawgiver's intention, they say the Cosmopolis challenged him, if he wished to say anything about the meaning according to the law of Zaleucus.

This meant arguing before the seated court of the thousand, with nooses hung in place, about the lawgiver's intention: whichever of the two should be shown to be interpreting the meaning for the worse was to be destroyed by hanging in the sight of the thousand.

When the Cosmopolis proposed these terms, they say the young man replied that the agreement was not equal: for to the one only two or three years of life were left—since it happened that the Cosmopolis was not far short of ninety years old—while for himself, in all reasonable likelihood, the greater part of his life still remained.

So the young man, having made this witty turn, dissolved the seriousness of the matter, and the magistrates judged the question of the seizure in accordance with the opinion of the Cosmopolis.

Chapter 17 A Criticism on Ephorus and Callisthenes

So that I may not seem to be running down such distinguished writers without warrant, I will recall a single battle—one that happens to be among the most celebrated ever fought, not very remote from us in time, and, most importantly, one at which Callisthenes himself was present.

I mean the engagement in Cilicia between Alexander and Darius. Callisthenes says that Alexander had by then already made his way through the narrow passes and through what are called the Cilician Gates, while Darius, taking the route through the so-called Amanid Gates, came down with his army into Cilicia.

On learning from the local people that Alexander was advancing in the direction of Syria, Darius followed after him, and on coming up close to the passes he encamped beside the river Pinarus.

The width of the ground, he says, was no more than fourteen stades from the sea up to the foot of the mountains.

Across this stretch the aforementioned river ran at an angle: right where it issued from the mountains its banks were broken with gullies, and in its course through the level country down to the sea it had steep and difficult bluffs.

Having laid down this description, he says that when Alexander's men, having turned about, began drawing near and advancing back against them, Darius and his officers decided to draw up the whole phalanx within the encampment itself, just as it had been from the start, and to use the river as a defensive barrier, since it flowed right past the camp.

After this, he says, they stationed the cavalry along the sea, the mercenaries next to them right along the river, and the peltasts beyond these, linking up with the mountains.

Chapter 18 The Battle of Issus

But how he could have drawn these troops up in front of the phalanx, when the river was flowing right beside the encampment, is hard to understand—especially given that they were present in such great numbers.

For there were thirty thousand cavalry, as Callisthenes himself states, and thirty thousand mercenaries; and it is easy to work out how much ground these would have needed.

At the very most, cavalry is drawn up eight deep for any real practical purpose, and between each squadron there has to be an interval equal to its frontage, so that they can be useful in wheeling and in countermarching.

On this reckoning a stade holds eight hundred horsemen, ten stades hold eight thousand, and four stades hold three thousand two hundred; so that the fourteen-stade space would be filled by eleven thousand two hundred.

But if he were to deploy the whole thirty thousand, the cavalry alone would fall only a little short of forming three phalanxes one behind another.

Into what space, then, was the mass of mercenaries drawn up? Unless, by Zeus, behind the cavalry—but he does not say that; rather, he says that these mercenaries clashed with the Macedonians during the advance.

From this one is forced to take it that the cavalry's line occupied half the ground, the half by the sea, and the mercenaries the other half, the half toward the mountains.

And from these figures it is easy to reckon how deep the cavalry stood, and how great a distance the river must have been from the encampment.

After this, he says that as the enemy drew near, Darius himself, who was positioned at the center of the line, called the mercenaries over to himself from the wing.

But how this can be meant is a puzzle: the junction of the mercenaries and the cavalry must have been at the center of the ground, so that, since Darius was right there among the mercenaries, where and to what point and how could he have been calling the mercenaries over?

Finally, he says that the cavalry from the right wing led an advance and charged into Alexander's force, and that these received them gallantly, charged back, and made a fierce fight of it.

But that there was a river in between—and a river of just the kind he had himself described a moment before—he forgot.

Chapter 19 Callisthenes Vague on Alexander's Movements

His account of Alexander's movements is much the same. He says that Alexander made his crossing into Asia with forty thousand infantry and four thousand five hundred cavalry, and that as he was about to invade Cilicia a further force came from Macedonia: five thousand infantry and eight hundred cavalry.

Even if one were to subtract from these three thousand infantry and three hundred cavalry—making the most generous allowance for losses incurred along the way in the various operations—there would still be left forty-two thousand infantry and five thousand cavalry.

On these assumptions, he says that Alexander learned of Darius's arrival in Cilicia when he was a hundred stades away from him, having already passed through the narrows; and that he therefore turned about and made his way back through the narrows, leading first the phalanx, then the cavalry, and last of all the baggage train. As soon as the head of the column emerged into open ground, he gave the order for everyone to extend the line, bringing up the phalanx alongside, and made its depth thirty-two; then, after that, again into sixteen; and finally, as he neared the enemy, into eight.

But these are even greater absurdities than the ones already mentioned. A stade, on the marching intervals, holds—when the men are sixteen deep—sixteen hundred men, each man occupying six feet.

It is plain, then, that ten stades will hold sixteen thousand, and twenty stades twice that number.

From this it is readily seen that at the moment Alexander made his force sixteen deep, the width of ground had to be twenty stades, and there would still be left over all the cavalry and ten thousand of the infantry.

Chapter 20 Inaccuracies about Tactics

After this he says that Alexander led his force forward in line abreast, when he was about forty stades from the enemy.

It is hard to imagine an absurdity greater than this. For where could anyone find ground of such a kind —and especially in Cilicia—as to lead a sarissa-bearing phalanx in line abreast over a front of twenty stades and a depth of forty?

So many are the obstacles to such a formation and operation that one could not easily even count them. But one of the things mentioned by Callisthenes himself is enough to settle the matter: he says that the winter torrents pouring down from the mountains make so many washed-out gullies across the plain that, as he reports, most of the Persians too perished in such hollows during their flight.

But, by Zeus—it may be said—Alexander wanted to be ready for the enemy's appearance.

Yet what is less ready than a phalanx broken up and strung out along its front? For how much easier it is to deploy from a suitable marching order than to bring a force that is broken up and pulled apart along its front onto a single straight line and form it up for battle in wooded and broken country!

It was therefore far better—not just by a little—to advance in a double or quadruple phalanx of suitable form, for which it is not impossible to find marching ground, and which it is easy to deploy quickly, since one can learn of the enemy's presence well in advance through the advance scouts.

But this man, apart from everything else, did not even post the cavalry in front while leading his force in line abreast over level ground; instead he set them on an equal footing with the infantry.

Chapter 21 Worst Misstatement of Callisthenes

But the greatest error of all is yet to come. He says that, once Alexander was already close to the enemy, he formed his men up eight deep.

From this it follows necessarily that the length of the phalanx had to extend over forty stades.

And even if they had closed their shields together completely, in the poet's phrase so as to press right up against one another, the position would still have required twenty stades.

Yet he himself says that the available ground fell short of fourteen stades.

[...] And of this, a portion next to the sea was taken up by half the cavalry on the right wing; [...] and further, the whole line had to stand a sufficient distance away from the mountains so as not to be exposed to the enemy who held the slopes at their feet.

For we know how he makes the wing bend back at an angle to face them.

Even so, let us here leave out the ten thousand infantry, who are more than his own scheme allows. The upshot is that, on Callisthenes's own showing, at most eleven stades are left for the length of the phalanx, within which the thirty-two thousand men must necessarily be packed shield to shield thirty deep.

Yet he says the battle was fought with the men drawn up eight deep.

Mistakes of this kind do not even admit of any defense, for what is physically impossible in such matters carries its own proof on its face.

And so, once a writer has laid down both the intervals occupied by each man and the fixed size of the whole ground, together with the number of the men, the falsehood becomes indefensible.

Chapter 22 Further Absurdities

It would take too long to mention all his other absurdities along with these, so I shall confine myself to a very few.

He says that Alexander took pains, in drawing up his order of battle, to set himself directly opposite Darius so as to engage him in person; and that likewise, at the outset, Darius too wished to be opposite

Alexander, but afterwards changed his mind.

But as to how these two recognized each other, or at what point in their own forces each had taken up his position, or to what point Darius in turn shifted himself, absolutely nothing is said.

And how did a body of phalanx troops climb up onto the bank of the river, when it was steep and overgrown with brushwood? This too is contrary to reason.

Now such an absurdity ought not to be charged against Alexander, since it is agreed by everyone that he had experience and practice in warfare from boyhood, but rather against the historian, who through his own inexperience cannot even distinguish, in such matters, between what is possible and what is not.

Let this, then, be our verdict concerning Ephorus and Callisthenes.

Chapter 23 Timaeus Exalts Timoleon To Excess

Timaeus mounts a most violent attack against Ephorus, though he is himself guilty of two faults: first, that he bitterly accuses others of the very things to which he is himself liable; and second, that he is thoroughly corrupt in his own mind, setting down such pronouncements in his memoirs and breeding such opinions in those who read them.

But if we are to hold that Callisthenes was justly punished when he met his death, what ought Timaeus to suffer? For the divine power would have far better cause to be indignant with this man than with Callisthenes.

Callisthenes, after all, only wished to deify Alexander, whereas Timaeus makes Timoleon greater than the most illustrious gods.

Callisthenes was exalting a man of such a kind that all agree he was, in spirit, of a greatness beyond the human measure, while Timaeus exalts Timoleon—who not only is not thought to have achieved anything great, but never even attempted it, having completed in his whole life a single line, and one not even worth much, in a manner of speaking, set against the vast extent of the world: I mean the line from his homeland to Syracuse.

But it seems to me that Timaeus was convinced that, if Timoleon—having pursued glory within Sicily alone, as though in a little saucer—should be made to appear comparable with the most illustrious of the heroes, then he himself too, though he had busied himself only with Italy and Sicily, might fairly be deemed worthy of comparison with those who composed their histories of the whole world and of events at large.

So much, then, concerning Aristotle, Theophrastus, and Callisthenes, and further Ephorus and Democharas: this is enough by way of answer to the attacks of Timaeus, and equally to those who, without any critical care, have been persuaded that this writer tells the truth.

Chapter 24 Timoleon. Phalaris

One may well be perplexed at Timaeus's line of argument. For he says that poets and prose writers reveal their own natures in their works through the excesses on which they dwell too much.

He says, for instance, that the poet, by his frequent carving of meat throughout his poetry, shows himself as it were a glutton; and that Aristotle, by dressing up rich dishes again and again in his treatises, is a lover of fine food and a gourmand.

In the same way he speaks [...] of Dionysius the tyrant, who was forever fussing over the arrangement of his couches and elaborating the peculiarities and rich variety of his hangings.

[...] one must form the corresponding judgment [...] and be dissatisfied [...] with respect to his own bent of character.

For this man, in accusing his neighbors, displays great force and audacity, but in his own statements he is full of dreams, portents, and unconvincing fables, and, in a word, of base superstition and womanish marvel-mongering.

And yet that it does happen, through inexperience and poor judgment, that many men sometimes are in a sense not present though present, and do not see though they are looking—this has become clear both from what has just been said and from what has befallen Timaeus.

Chapter 25 General Remarks on Timaeus as an Historian

Concerning the bronze bull that was made by Phalaris at Acragas, into which he used to put men and then, by kindling a fire beneath, exact such a punishment from his subjects that, as the bronze was heated white-hot, the man, roasted and scorched on every side, was destroyed; and in the extremity of his agony, whenever he cried out, the sound that issued from the device struck the ears of those listening like the bellowing of a bull.

This bull, when the Carthaginians gained the upper hand, was carried off from Acragas to Carthage, and the little door between the shoulders—through which those condemned to punishment used to be let down—still remained; and although no other reason why such a bull should have been built at Carthage could be discovered at all, Timaeus nevertheless set out both to demolish the common report and to brand as false the statements of the poets and historians, asserting that the bull at Carthage had not come from Acragas and that no such thing had ever existed in that city; and he has devoted a great many arguments to this point.—What term and what word must one apply to Timaeus? It seems to me that his kind deserves all the most bitter names, the very ones he himself has used against those around him.

That he is quarrelsome, a liar, and reckless has been shown well enough, I think, from what has already been said; but that he is unphilosophical and, in a word, an ill-bred writer will become clear from what is about to be said.

For in his twenty-first book, and at the very end of it, in the exhortation of Timoleon he says this: that the earth, lying beneath the heavens, is divided into three parts, one called Asia, another Libya, and another Europe.

That Timaeus could have said such a thing no one would believe—no, not even of that proverbial Margites.

For who is so ignorant, I do not say among those who have applied themselves to written records, [...]

Chapter 25a Timaeus's Invented Speeches

What Polybius of Megalopolis says about Timaeus. Just as the proverb has it that a single drop from the largest vessel is enough to tell us the character of the whole contents, so we must judge in the matter now before us.

For once one or two falsehoods are found in a man's writings, and these turn out to have been deliberate, it is clear that nothing said by such a writer can any longer be regarded as certain or reliable.

But in order to convince even those who are more inclined to take his part, I must speak about his method and the pains he takes with his public speeches and exhortations, and further with the speeches of ambassadors—in short, with everything of that kind, which are, as it were, the summary headings of events and hold the whole history together.

For that Timaeus has set these down in his account contrary to the truth, and has done so on purpose, what reader can fail to notice?

He has not written what was actually said, nor reported it as it really was said. Instead, having first decided how it ought to have been said, he reels off all the supposed speeches and the circumstances attending the events as a man might do who, in a rhetorical exercise, were attempting to argue a set theme [...] as though he were making a display of his own ability, rather than giving a true account of what was said. —

Chapter 25b Why History Must Report Real Speeches

It is the special property of history first to learn the words that were actually spoken, whatever they may have been, and second to find out the reason why the action or speech in question either failed or succeeded.

For the bare statement of what happened, while it may entertain us, is of no profit; but when the reason is added, the study of history becomes fruitful.

For when we transfer parallels from the past to our own circumstances, we gain starting points and grounds for forming judgments about what is to come, so that we may at one time take precaution and

at another, imitating what has gone before, set about facing present dangers with greater confidence.

But the man who passes over in silence both the words that were spoken and the reason for them, and instead gives false arguments and long-winded speeches in their place, destroys the very thing that is proper to history. This is exactly what Timaeus does, and we all know that his books are full of this kind of thing.

Chapter 25c Why Readers Trusted Timaeus

One might perhaps be puzzled how a man of the character we are describing has won such acceptance and credit with some readers.

The reason for this is that, since his work overflows with censure and abuse of others, he is judged not by his own work nor by his own statements, but by his attacks on his neighbors; and to this end he seems to me to have brought a quite exceptional industriousness and a natural talent.

Something very much like this happened in the case of Strato the natural philosopher too. For he likewise, whenever he sets out to pick apart and refute the opinions of others, is admirable; but whenever he advances something of his own and expounds one of his own ideas, he appears to those who know the subject far sillier and duller than himself.

And it seems to me that what happens with writers is exactly like what happens in our life as a whole.

For here too it is easy to find fault with one's neighbors, but hard to keep oneself free from error; and one might say, almost as a rule, that those who are quickest to censure their neighbors are the very ones who make the most mistakes in their own lives.

Chapter 25d History Compared with Medicine

Besides what has already been described, something else applies in the case of Timaeus. Having settled in Athens for nearly fifty years and devoted himself to the writings of earlier authors, he supposed that he possessed the greatest resources for writing history—mistakenly, in my view.

For history has something in common with medicine, in that each of them, in its broadest divisions, falls into three parts; and it follows that the dispositions of those who take them up are likewise comparable.

Take medicine straightaway: one part of it is the theoretical, the next the dietetic, and the third the surgical and pharmaceutical, of the kind [...] entirely. [...] by misrepresenting the profession *

[...] Now the theoretical branch, which has its chief origin from Alexandria, among those called there the followers of Herophilus and Callimachus, occupies one part of medicine; but by its outward appearance and its grand professions it draws to itself such a reputation that no one else seems to have a grasp of the subject.

Yet when you bring these men to the test of reality and put a sick patient in their hands, they prove to be as far from being of use as those who have never read a medical treatise at all. Some patients, having entrusted themselves to such men on account of their fluency in argument, though there was nothing seriously wrong with them, have often put themselves in extreme danger.

For they are truly like men who navigate from a book. And yet these men, traveling about the cities with much show, when they have gathered crowds [...] by reputation, bring those who have given true proof of themselves in actual practice into the utmost difficulty and contempt with their audience, since the plausibility of words often overcomes the verdict of experience on the actual facts.

But the third kind—the man who brings to each profession a genuine, practiced competence—is not only rare, but is also often overshadowed by glibness and audacity, owing to the lack of judgment in the many.

Chapter 25e The Three Branches of Practical History

In the very same way, practical history too is threefold. One of its parts concerns the diligent study of documents and the comparison of the material drawn from them; another concerns the survey of cities and places, of rivers and harbors, and in general of the distinctive features and distances by land and by sea; and the third concerns political affairs.

And in the same manner many set their hearts on history because of the reputation it has previously enjoyed, yet most of those who take up the task bring to it nothing that does them credit—nothing but facility, audacity, and unscrupulous workmanship.

Like the quack drug-sellers, they court popularity and always say what will please the moment, in order to make a living by this means; and they are not worth saying more about.

But some of those who seem to approach history on reasonable grounds, like the theoretical physicians, spend their time in libraries and acquire in general a wide range of experience from the documents, and so persuade themselves that they are competent for the task, and seem to outsiders to be adequately equipped—[...] part, as it seems to me, of practical history.

For it is true that the examination of earlier records is useful for knowing the views of the ancients and the conceptions they once held about situations, places, peoples, and constitutions and actions, and further for understanding the circumstances and fortunes that each people experienced in earlier times.

For the past fittingly draws our attention toward the future, provided one inquires truthfully into what is past in each case.

But to be persuaded—as Timaeus is—that, starting from this capacity alone, one is equipped to write well the history of later events is utterly foolish, and much as if a man who had looked at the works of the ancient painters should think himself a competent painter and a master of the art.

Chapter 25f Ephorus Ignorant of Land Battles

What I am saying will become still clearer from what follows—for instance, straightaway from what happens to Ephorus in certain passages of his history. For in military matters he seems to me to have some notion of operations at sea, but to be entirely without experience of land engagements.

Accordingly, when one fixes attention on the sea-battles off Cyprus and off Cnidus, which the King's generals fought against Evagoras of Salamis and again against the Spartans, it is reasonable to admire the writer both for his ability and for his expertise, and to carry away much that is useful for similar situations.

But when he describes the battle of Leuctra between the Thebans and the Spartans, or again that of Mantinea between these same peoples, in which Epaminondas lost his life, then, if one pays close attention to the details and studies the formations and maneuvers made at the very crises of the action, he appears ridiculous and altogether inexperienced and ignorant of such matters.

Now the engagement at Leuctra, which was straightforward and involved only one part of the forces, does not make the writer's inexperience very conspicuous; but the one at Mantinea has, in his presentation, a varied and generalship-like appearance, yet is untenable and entirely beyond the writer's grasp. This will become clear if one accurately lays out the ground and measures against it the movements he describes.

The same thing happens with Theopompus too, and most of all with Timaeus, who is our present subject.

For wherever such writers treat their subject in summary outline, they pass undetected; but wherever they choose to elaborate and demonstrate some point in detail, they show themselves to be exactly such men as Ephorus. —

Chapter 25g Bookish Writers Lack Experience of War

That it is impossible to write well about events in war for the man who has no experience of military operations, or about affairs in the various states for the man who has had no practical experience of such actions and circumstances.

It follows that, when nothing is written either with experience or vividly by these bookish authors, the work proves to be of no practical use to its readers. For if one takes out of history the element that can benefit us, what is left of it becomes utterly worthless and useless.

Furthermore, when men set out to write in detail about cities and places while being untrained in such experience, it clearly must follow that the like result occurs: they leave out many things worthy of mention, and make much of many things not worth it. This happens most of all to Timaeus, owing to his want of direct observation.

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Chapter 25h Timaeus's Fifty Years in Athens

Timaeus says, in his thirty-fourth book: "Having spent fifty unbroken years living as a foreigner in Athens, I admittedly had no experience of warfare, nor, moreover, of the firsthand inspection of places."

Consequently, whenever in his history he comes upon one of these subjects, he is ignorant of much and falsifies much; and even when he occasionally touches the truth, he is like those painters who make their sketches from stuffed dummies.

For with them too the outer outline is sometimes preserved, but the vividness and the energy of living creatures is absent—which is precisely what is proper to the art of painting. And the same thing happens with Timaeus and in general with those who set out from this bookish habit.

For the vivid impression of events is absent from them, because this comes only from the writer's own firsthand experience; and so those who have not themselves gone through the events do not implant in their hearers any genuine enthusiasm.

It is for this reason that our predecessors thought such vivid touches ought to be present in their accounts; so that, when the discussion was about political affairs, they would add that of necessity the writer had taken part in public life and had experience of what happens in that sphere; and when it was about military affairs, that he had likewise served in campaigns and faced danger; and again, when about private life, that he had raised children and lived with a wife. And the like for the other departments of life.

This is reasonably to be found only among those writers who have themselves gone through the events and have made this department of history their own. To be, as it were, an active doer and performer of everything is perhaps difficult; but of the greatest and most general matters it is essential.

Chapter 25i Documents as the Third Part of History

That what I say is not impossible, the poet is sufficient proof to win belief, for in him one may see this vividness present in abundance.

From all this everyone would reasonably agree that the diligent study of documents is the third part of history and holds the third rank.

That what I am now saying is true would become most evident in the case of the deliberative and hortatory speeches, and further the speeches of ambassadors, which Timaeus employs.

For few occasions admit of presenting all the arguments available, while most admit only a few of those at hand—and of these, some are used by the men of today, others by those of former times; and

some the Aetolians put forward, some the Peloponnesians, and some the Athenians.

Now to run through all the available arguments idly and out of season, applied to everything and to everyone—which is what Timaeus does, contriving arguments for every subject—is utterly untruthful, juvenile, and fit only for the lecture-room; and indeed this has already been the cause of failure and contempt for many. But to choose always the fitting and timely arguments—that is essential.

And since the application is variable—both how many and what kind of the available arguments one should use—a rather different sort of practice and rule is needed if we are not to harm but to benefit our readers.

Now the right occasion is in all cases hard to teach by rule, yet it is not impossible to be brought within the range of intelligent guess through observations drawn from firsthand experience and practice; and in the present case what I am saying may best be inferred from the following.

For if writers, having indicated the occasions and the impulses and dispositions of those deliberating, and then having set out the speeches actually delivered, were to make clear to us the reasons why the speakers either hit the mark or missed it, we would arrive at some true understanding of the matter, and would be able—at once by discriminating and by transferring the parallel to similar cases—always to hit the mark in the questions before us.

But the trouble is, I think, that to explain causes is hard, while to coin speeches in books is easy; and to say a few words to the point, and to find the rule for this, is within reach of few, whereas to spin out a great deal of empty matter lying ready to hand is common and easy.

Chapter 25k Timaeus's Speeches at Gela

In order that we may confirm our verdict on Timaeus in these matters too, just as we have done concerning his ignorance and his deliberate falsification of the record, I will set out briefly a few of his speeches that are acknowledged to be his, citing them by name.

—Of those who held power in Sicily after Gelon the elder, we have received as the most statesmanlike men Hermocrates, Timoleon, and Pyrrhus of Epirus—men to whom one would least of all wish to attach juvenile, lecture-room speeches.

Now Timaeus says, in his twenty-first book, that at the time when Eurymedon arrived in Sicily and was urging the cities to join the war against the Syracusans, the people of Gela, worn out by the war, then sent envoys to the people of Camarina to propose a truce; and when these readily accepted, each side afterward sent embassies to their own allies, urging them to dispatch trustworthy men who should come to Gela to deliberate about a settlement and the common interests.

When the delegates had assembled and a debate had been laid before them, he brings on Hermocrates using speeches of some such tenor.

For this man, having praised the people of Gela and of Camarina—first because they were the ones who had made the truce, second because they had been responsible for the discussions about a settlement coming about, and third because they had taken care that it should not be the masses who deliberated about the settlements, but the leading citizens, who knew clearly what difference war makes from peace— and then, after taking up two or three practical arguments, he tells them that they must now give their attention and learn how great a difference war makes from peace—though only a little earlier he had said that on this very account Hermocrates was grateful to the people of Gela that the discussions were not taking place before the multitude, but in a council that well understood such reversals of fortune.

From all this Timaeus would seem to fall short not only of practical ability, but also to come off no little the worse in the very arguments used in the schools of rhetoric.

For everyone surely thinks that proofs ought to be brought forward of things unknown and things disbelieved by the hearers, whereas about matters already known it is the most pointless and most childish thing of all to keep contriving arguments [...] than what is already known.

Chapter 26 Sophistical Commonplaces

But this man, apart from his whole blunder in directing the greater part of his speech toward things that need no argument at all, has also used assumptions of such a kind that no one could believe Hermocrates used them—the man who fought alongside the Spartans in the sea-battle at Aegospotami, and who with all their crews subdued the forces of the Athenians and their generals in Sicily—nor indeed any chance youth? For he, first of all, thinks he ought to remind the delegates that those who sleep at dawn are roused in war by trumpets, but in peacetime by the birds.

After this he says that Heracles established the Olympic games and the truce that goes with them as a demonstration of his own principle, and that, although he harmed all those against whom he made war, he did so under necessity and by another's command, and was never willingly the cause of harm to any man.

Next to these, he brings in from the poet (Homer) Zeus, displeased with Ares and saying:

"Most hateful to me are you of the gods who hold Olympus; for strife is ever dear to you, and wars and battles."

And likewise the wisest of the heroes saying:

"Clanless, lawless, hearthless is that man who longs for chilling civil war."

And that Euripides agrees with the poet, in the lines where he says:

"O Peace, rich in deep wealth, fairest of the blessed gods, I long for you—how long you delay! I fear that old age may overtake me before I look upon your lovely season, your songs of beautiful dances,

and your garland-loving revels."

And in addition to these he says that war is most like disease and peace like health: for the one restores even the sick, while in the other even the healthy perish.

And that in peace the older are buried by the younger, as nature requires, whereas in war the opposite happens; and, most important of all, that in war there is no safety even as far as the city walls, while in peace it extends to the very borders of the country—and other things much like these.

I wonder, then, what other words or expressions could have been used by a youth who has only just taken up the schools and the busywork drawn from written notes, and who wishes, by the rules of the art, to frame his composition from the attributes appropriate to the characters; for it seems to me he would use no others than precisely those which Timaeus says Hermocrates used.

Chapter 26a Timoleon's Taunt about Libyan Cowardice

Then again, what are we to make of the passage where Timoleon, in the same book, is urging the Greeks on to face the danger of war against the Carthaginians? When they were all but on the very point of coming to grips with an enemy many times their number, he first calls on them not to look at the multitude of their opponents but at their cowardice.

For although the whole of Libya is continuously inhabited and teeming with people, nevertheless in our proverbs, whenever we want to convey the idea of desolation, we say "more deserted than Libya"—aiming the expression not at any emptiness of population, but at the cowardice of the people who live there.

And in general, he says, who could be afraid of men who, though nature has given to human beings, as their own special endowment beyond the rest of the animals—I mean their hands—nevertheless go through their whole lives carrying these hands tucked uselessly inside their tunics?

But the crowning point, he says, is that under their tunics they actually wear loincloths, so that not even when they fall in battle should they be exposed to the enemy [...]

Chapter 26b Gelon's Offer to the Greeks

When Gelon offered to come to the aid of the Greeks with twenty thousand infantry and two hundred decked warships, on condition that they cede to him the command either on land or at sea, the story goes that the Greek leaders presiding at Corinth gave Gelon's envoys a most statesmanlike answer.

They told Gelon to come with his forces as an ally, but said that the command would, of necessity, be conferred by circumstances on the best men.

This is the language not of men taking refuge in the hopes held out by the Syracusans, but of men who trusted in themselves and were challenging anyone who cared to enter the contest of courage and

compete for the crown of valor.

And yet, on each of the points just mentioned, Timaeus spins out speeches of such length and shows such eagerness to make Sicily grander than all of Greece together, the deeds done there more brilliant and finer than those of the rest of the world, its wise men the wisest of all who have excelled in wisdom, and its men of action—those from Syracuse—the most masterful and most godlike, that he leaves no room for further exaggeration even to the schoolboys in the lecture-halls and the philosophers' walks who go in for paradoxical exercises, whenever they set out to deliver a eulogy of Thersites, or a denunciation of Penelope, or something else of that kind.

Chapter 26c Love of Paradox Brings Ridicule

The upshot is that, through his excessive love of paradox, he ends up bringing the very men and deeds he wants to champion not into favorable comparison but into ridicule; and he falls into almost the same plight as those students in the Academy who have trained themselves in the most facile kind of argument.

For some of these men, wanting to drive those they debate with into perplexity—both about things that seem plainly knowable and about things that are genuinely unknowable—resort to such paradoxes and have such a ready stock of plausibilities that they make one wonder whether it is possible for people in Athens to smell eggs being boiled in Ephesus, and to doubt whether perhaps, at the very moment they are discussing these matters in the Academy, they are not awake at all but lying at home asleep, framing these arguments in a dream.

As a result, through their excessive love of paradox, they have brought the whole school into disrepute, so that even the questions they raise legitimately have come to be disbelieved by people.

And quite apart from their own misjudgment, they have bred in the young such a passion for this sort of thing that it comes about that they give not even a passing thought to ethical and practical arguments—the very ones from which philosophers derive real benefit—but instead waste their lives chasing empty glory in useless and paradoxical feats of argumentation.

Chapter 26d Timaeus on Colonies and Kinships

The same thing has happened to Timaeus too in the field of history, and to his admirers. Being a lover of paradox and combative about whatever thesis he sets up, he has overawed the general public with his arguments and forced them to pay attention to him through the appearance of telling the truth; some he has even drawn over to his side and seems to win round with apparent proof.

He has produced this impression above all by his pronouncements about colonies, the founding of cities, and the kinships between peoples.

In these matters he makes such a display, through his precision and through the bitterness of the refutations he aims at his rivals, that all the other writers seem to have slept through their subject and dealt with the world offhand, while he alone appears to have investigated the exact truth and sorted out the histories in each case—matters in which much is stated soundly, but much also falsely.

Nevertheless, those who have spent a long time steeped in his early books—the ones containing his treatments of the subjects just mentioned—first give full credence to the whole extravagant scale of his claims; but then, when someone shows them that on the very points where Timaeus is most savage toward his rivals he is himself guilty of the same fault (just as we have lately shown him going wrong over the Locrians and the matters that follow), they turn quarrelsome, contentious, and hard to budge. And one might almost say that those who have applied themselves most diligently to his books carry away just this as the profit of their reading.

As for those who have devoted their attention to his public speeches, and to his discursive set-pieces in general, they turn out puerile, pedantic, and utterly out of touch with the truth, for the reasons just given.

Chapter 27 An Historian Needs Practical Experience

For there being by nature two instruments, as it were, by which we learn and investigate everything—hearing and sight—and sight being not a little the truer, according to Heraclitus (for the eyes are more accurate witnesses than the ears)—of these Timaeus set out to pursue his inquiry by the pleasanter, but the inferior, of the two roads.

For he abstained entirely from learning through sight, and laid claim to learning through hearing. And this latter being itself of two kinds—one through written records [...] —he handled the part concerning personal interrogation carelessly, as we have shown above.

The reason he made this choice is easy to grasp: matters drawn from books can be investigated without danger or hardship, if one only takes the single precaution of securing either a city that possesses an abundance of records or a library somewhere close at hand.

After that, one need only recline and search out the question at issue and compare the errors of earlier writers without any hardship at all.

Personal inquiry, on the other hand, demands much toil and expense, yet it contributes greatly and is the most important part of history.

This is clear from the very writers who compose histories. For Ephorus says that, if it were possible for them to be present at all the events, that would be far the best of all kinds of experience; and Theopompus says that the best in military matters is the man who has taken part in the most battles, and the most capable in speech is the one who has shared in the most political contests.

And the same thing holds in the case of medicine and of steering a ship.

And even more vividly than these writers the poet (Homer) has spoken about this point. For he, wishing to show us what kind of man the man of action ought to be, takes up the figure of Odysseus and speaks somehow as follows:

"Tell me, Muse, of the man of many turns, who wandered very far," and then continuing, "and of many men he saw the cities and learned their mind, and many sorrows he suffered in his heart upon the sea," and again, "passing through the wars of men and the grievous waves."

Chapter 27a The Cause of Timaeus's Errors

It remains, then, that the factual part of his history is built up out of every kind of error, most of which we have already gone through.

We shall now state the cause of the error—one that will not seem credible to most people, but will be found to be the truest of all the charges against Timaeus.

For he does appear to have equipped himself with both a practical command of each subject and a habit of painstaking inquiry, and, in a word, to have come to the writing of history industriously; and yet in certain respects no one among the writers of repute seems to have been more inexperienced or less painstaking than he. What I mean will become clear from the following.

Chapter 28 Mere Inquiry Is Insufficient

It seems to me that the very dignity of history calls for such a man.

Now Plato says that human affairs will go well only when either philosophers become kings or kings take up philosophy; and I too would say that history will be in a good state only when either men of action undertake to write histories— not, as they do now, as a secondary matter, but considering this too to be among their most necessary and finest pursuits, and devoting themselves undistracted [...] to this branch of work throughout their lives— or when those who set out to write come to regard the experience gained from affairs themselves as indispensable for history. Until that happens there will be no end to the ignorance of historians.

Of all this Timaeus took not the slightest forethought, but having lived out his life in a single place as a resident alien, and having, almost as if on purpose, renounced both active engagement in military and political affairs and the firsthand experience that comes from travel and observation, he somehow or other carries off the reputation of one who lays claim to the foremost rank among writers.

And that he is of this character it is easy to demonstrate from Timaeus' own admissions.

For in the preface to his sixth book he says that some people suppose that the genre of display oratory requires greater natural talent, industry, and preparation than that of history, and that these opinions had earlier been brought against Ephorus; and since that writer had been unable to answer adequately

those who said such things, he himself attempts to set history side by side with display oratory in a comparison—doing the most absurd thing of all, first in misrepresenting that writer. For Ephorus, admirable throughout his whole work in his style, in his treatment, and in the conception of his material, is at his most masterly in his digressions and in the maxims he contributes of his own—in short, whenever he sets out some supplementary observation; and, as it happens, it is on this very subject—the comparison of historians with speech-writers—that he has spoken most agreeably and most persuasively.

Chapter 28a Timaeus on the Dignity of History

But Timaeus, so as not to seem to be following Ephorus, on top of misrepresenting him has at the same time condemned the rest as well: for, expounding at length, obscurely, and in every way worse the matters that had been properly handled by others, he supposed that none of the living would be able to observe this. All the same, in his eagerness to exalt the writing of history, he says first that the difference between history and rhetorical display-pieces is as great as the difference between buildings really constructed and furnished and the scenes and settings that merely appear in stage-paintings.

Second, he says that the mere gathering of the materials for history is a greater task than the whole business of composing display-pieces.

He himself, at any rate, claims to have gone to such expense and trouble in collecting the records of the Cyrnians (Corsicans) and in researching the customs of the Ligurians and the Gauls, and along with these the Iberians, that he could scarcely have believed it possible himself, nor would others be believed if they were to describe these efforts.

One would gladly put this question to the historian: which does he suppose requires greater expense and hardship—to sit in a city collecting records and researching the customs of the Ligurians and the Gauls, or to put most of the nations and places to the test and become an eyewitness oneself?

And again, which is the harder: to inquire about pitched battles, sieges, and naval engagements from those who happened to be present in the moments of danger, or to gain firsthand experience of the perils and of all that goes with them in the actual operations themselves?

For my own part, I do not think that real buildings differ from the scenes in stage-paintings, or history from display-speeches, by as much as, in every kind of composition, an account based on personal action and personal experience differs from one written up from hearsay and report.

Being utterly inexperienced in this, he naturally assumed that what is the smallest and easiest task of all is the greatest and most difficult for those engaged in writing history—I mean the collecting of records and the questioning of people who know each set of facts.

And yet in just this part the inexperienced are bound to go badly astray; for how can a man question people properly about a pitched battle, a siege, or a naval engagement, and how can he follow the details of those describing them, when he has no conception of the things in question?

For the inquirer contributes no less to the account than those who report it; the very prompting about the circumstances that attend the events serves to lead the narrator by the hand to each of the things that happened.

In all this the inexperienced man is neither capable of cross-examining those who were present, nor, even when he is there alongside them, of understanding what is going on; rather, even when he is present, in a way, though present, he is not really present at all.

Book XIII

The Spartan tyrant Nabis presenting his mechanical torture device constructed in the image of Queen Apega. Book XIII, 7.

Chapter 1 The Aetolians

Because of the unbroken succession of wars and the extravagance of their way of life, the Aetolians had slipped into debt unnoticed, not only by others but even by themselves.

So, being naturally inclined toward a change in their own constitution, they chose Dorimachus and Scopas to draft laws for them, thinking that these men were, by temperament, eager for upheaval and were also deeply entangled in many ordinary financial obligations. After receiving this authority, they wrote the laws.

Chapter 1a Alexander the Aetolian Opposes the Proposed Law

Alexander the Aetolian opposed the legislation being drafted by Dorimachus and Scopas, showing by many examples that wherever this growth had once taken root, it never stopped until it had brought great disasters on those who had made use of it.

Therefore he urged them to look not only at the present—whether they would get relief from their current obligations— but also at the future.

For, he said, it was absurd that men should be ready in war to give up even their breath for the safety of their children, yet when they were deliberating, take no thought at all for the time that would come afterward.

Chapter 2 Scopas Goes to Egypt

Scopas, the Aetolian general, having failed to win the office for the sake of which he had dared to draft those laws, turned expectantly toward Alexandria, persuaded that the prospects there would restore what was lacking in his livelihood and satisfy the greedy craving in his soul. He did not understand that, just as in the case of people suffering from dropsy, supplying moisture from outside never brings an end or satiety to their thirst unless someone first heals the diseased condition within the body itself, so too it is impossible to satisfy the desire for more unless one first corrects, by reason, the vice rooted in the soul. This became especially clear in the case of the very man now under discussion.

For when he arrived in Alexandria, besides the profits from the countryside over which he had authority because he was entrusted with major affairs, the king also assigned him a daily allowance of ten minas, and to those ranked just below him in command, one mina a day.

Yet even this was not enough for him, since he had long trained himself to press for more and more, until, because of his greed, he became hated even by those who were giving him these things, and at last lost his life together with his gold.

Chapter 3 Philip's Treacherous Conduct, 204 BC

[...] was engaged in this kind of villainy—a thing no one could call kingly, though some nowadays choose to describe it as necessary to practical statesmanship because of the bad faith now so widely prevalent.

The men of old were very far from behaving in such a way. They were so alien to plotting against friends for the sake of increasing their own power that they did not even choose to conquer enemies by deceit, because they believed that no success was either glorious or secure unless a man, fighting openly, had defeated his opponents by breaking their spirit.

Therefore they even came to agreements with one another not to use hidden missiles or long-range weapons against each other, holding that the only true decision in war was a battle fought hand to hand at close quarters.

For the same reason they used to announce wars and even battles beforehand, naming both the time when they intended to hazard all and the places where they were going to draw up their armies.

But now people say that any general who carries out military business openly is a poor one.

Among the Romans there still remains a faint trace of the ancient view in matters of war: they proclaim their wars in advance, make only sparing use of ambushes, and fight hand to hand at close quarters.

Let this be said against the excessive zeal now fashionable among leaders, in both political and military administration, for underhanded methods beyond what is necessary.

Chapter 4 Philip Intrigues Against Rhodes

Philip gave Heracleides, as though setting him a problem, instructions to consider how he might injure and destroy the Rhodian fleet, and at the same time sent envoys to Crete to stir up and incite war against the Rhodians.

Heracleides, a man naturally fitted for wickedness, regarded the order as a godsend; and after devising whatever schemes he could in his own mind, he set out after a time and sailed to Rhodes.

This Heracleides was by birth a Tarentine, descended from mechanics and craftsmen, but he possessed exceptional gifts for shamelessness and unscrupulous dealing.

For first of all, in his early youth, he had openly prostituted his body; later he proved sharp-witted and possessed of a strong memory, overawing his inferiors with extreme boldness and audacity, while toward his superiors he was exceedingly fawning.

At first he was driven from his native city on suspicion of trying to betray Tarentum to the Romans. He had no political power, but as an architect, and through certain repairs to the walls, he had gained control of the keys of the gate leading inland.

After fleeing to the Romans, and then again carrying on correspondence and sending messages from there to Tarentum and Hannibal, he was detected; foreseeing what would follow, he fled once more to Philip.

There he gained such credit and influence that he became one of the chief causes of the ruin of so great a kingdom.

Chapter 5 Distrust between Philip and the Rhodians

The prytaneis, already distrustful of Philip because of his misconduct in Cretan affairs, also suspected that Heracleides was an agent planted among them.

But when he came before them, he explained the reasons for which he had fled from Philip.

For, he said, Philip would have been willing to undertake anything rather than let his intentions in these matters become apparent to the Rhodians. And by this means he cleared Heracleides of suspicion.

It seems to me that nature has shown truth to be the mightiest of divinities for mankind and has added to it the greatest power.

For although everyone may struggle against it, and although every appearance may at times be arrayed on the side of falsehood, still somehow truth makes its way by its own force into human minds, and sometimes reveals its power at once, while at other times, though long obscured, it finally prevails by its own strength and overcomes falsehood—as happened in the case of Heracleides, who had come to Rhodes from King Philip.

Damocles, who was sent with Pythion as a spy to the Romans, was a capable instrument by nature and had many resources for the management of affairs.

Chapter 6 Nabis, Tyrant of Sparta, 207–192 BC

Nabis, the tyrant of the Spartans, now in the third year of his rule, did not yet venture to undertake or attempt anything on a grand scale, because the defeat of Machanidas by the Achaeans was still recent, but he was laying the groundwork and setting the foundation for a tyranny that would be long-lasting and oppressive.

He destroyed outright what remained in Sparta, drove into exile those who stood out most in wealth or ancestral distinction, and distributed their property and wives among the most prominent of the others and among his mercenaries.

These men were murderers, brigands, robbers, and burglars. In general, this was the class of people he carefully gathered to himself from the whole inhabited world—men for whom the land that had reared them was closed because of impiety and lawlessness.

By setting himself up as the patron and king of such men, and by using them as his spear-bearers and bodyguards, he plainly ensured that his rule and his reputation for impiety would endure for a long time.

Nor, apart from what has already been mentioned, was he satisfied with merely banishing citizens; there was no place safe for the exiles, no refuge they could rely on.

Some he had murdered by sending men after them on the roads; others he killed by dragging them back from the places to which they had fled.

In the end, in whatever cities one of the exiles happened to be living, he secretly rented the neighboring houses through men unlikely to arouse suspicion, and sent Cretans into them; these made openings in the walls and, shooting through existing windows, destroyed some of the exiles while they were standing and others while they were lying in their own houses, so that there was no place of escape and no moment of safety for the wretched Spartans.

And so this was the sort of [...]

Chapter 7 Nabis's Wife

By this method he did away with most of them. He also had a certain device constructed—if indeed one ought to call it a device.

It was a female figure clothed in expensive garments and fashioned with extraordinary accuracy to resemble the wife of Nabis.

Whenever he summoned one of the leading citizens because he wanted to extract money from him, he began with lengthy and courteous speeches, pointing to the danger hanging over the countryside and the city from the Achaeans, explaining the number of mercenaries maintained for their protection, and adding the expenses owed to the gods and to the public needs of the city.

If by such arguments they gave way, that was enough for his purpose.

But if any of them refused and tried to put off his demand, he would make a speech like this: "Perhaps I am not able to persuade you, but I think this Apéga here will persuade you." Apéga was the name of Nabis's wife.

When he had said this, the figure I mentioned a little earlier was brought in.

After greeting the man, Nabis would raise the figure from its seat, have it put its arms around him, and gradually draw him toward its breast.

Its forearms and hands were full of iron spikes beneath the garments, and so were its breasts.

When Nabis pressed the hands against the back of the figure and then, by means of mechanical devices, tightened the embrace and little by little forced the victim against the breasts, he compelled the man under torture to utter anything at all.

In this way he destroyed many who refused his demands.

Chapter 8 Nabis Finds a Pretext for War

In all his other actions as ruler he was of the same sort and character as in these beginnings.

He joined with the Cretans in piracy at sea, and throughout the whole Peloponnese he maintained temple-robbers, highwaymen, and murderers; taking a share of the profits from their crimes, he offered Sparta to them as a base and refuge.

Now at this time some visitors from Boeotia who were staying in Lacedaemon persuaded one of Nabis's grooms to leave with them, taking a white horse that was thought to be the finest in the tyrant's stables.

When the man agreed and did as they asked, Nabis's agents pursued them as far as Megalopolis and, finding them there, at once led away the horse and the groom—no one interfering—but after that they laid hands on the foreign visitors as well.

At first the Boeotians demanded to be taken before the magistrates; but when no one paid attention, one of the visitors shouted, "Help!" The local people came running up and protested that the men should be brought before the authorities, so Nabis's agents were forced to let the men go and depart.

Nabis, who had long been looking for grounds of accusation and a plausible pretext for conflict, seized on this occasion at once and raided the livestock of Proagoras and certain others. From this came the beginning of the war.

Chapter 9 Antiochus in Arabia, 205–204 BC

Labae, like Sabae, is a city of Chattenia, as Polybius says in his thirteenth book. The ethnic is Labaean, just as from Sabae comes Sabaean. Both belong to the same region, for Chattenia is territory of the Gerrhaeans.

Chattenia is the third district of the Gerrhaeans.

Polybius, Book 13: “Chattenia is otherwise a bleak land, but because of the prosperity of the Gerrhaeans it has been furnished with villages and towers; for they are the ones who occupy it.”

It lies on the Erythraean Sea. The inhabitants are called Chattenians, as he himself says: “For to these men he gave orders to spare the land of the Chattenians.”

The Gerrhaeans asked the king not to destroy what the gods had given them—that is, perpetual peace and freedom. When their letter had been interpreted to him, he said that he granted what they requested.

When freedom had been confirmed for the Gerrhaeans, they immediately honored King Antiochus with gifts of five hundred talents of silver, a thousand of frankincense, and two hundred of the substance called stacte. He then sailed on to the island of Tylos and from there departed for Seleuceia. These aromatic products came from the Erythraean Sea.

Chapter 10 Geographical Fragments from Italy and Greece

Badiza, a city of Bruttium, mentioned by Polybius in his thirteenth book.

Lampeteia, a city of Bruttium, mentioned by Polybius in his thirteenth book.

There is also Temese, both a city of Italy and a river. But Polybius, in the thirteenth book, calls the city Temeseia.

Allaria, a city of Crete, mentioned by Polybius in the thirteenth book. The ethnic is Allariates, as he himself says.

Ilattia, a city of Crete, mentioned by Polybius in his thirteenth book.

Sibyrtus, a city of Crete. The ethnic is Sibyrtius, as Polybius says in the thirteenth book.

Adrane, a city of Thrace [...] but Polybius, in the thirteenth book, spells the middle vowel with eta, writing Adrēnē.

The Areian Plain [...] there is also in Thrace a deserted plain with low-growing trees, as Polybius says in the thirteenth book.

Digeroi, a Thracian people, mentioned by Polybius in Book 13.

Cabyle, a city of Thrace not far from the territory of the Astae, mentioned by Polybius in the thirteenth book.

Melitoussa, a city of Illyria, mentioned by Polybius in the thirteenth book.

Book XIV

The surprise night assault and burning of the Numidian and Carthaginian camps (203 BC). Book XIV, 4–5.

Chapter 1 Scipio Plans To Attack the Punic Camp

While the consuls were occupied with these matters, Publius in Libya, during the winter quarters, learned that the Carthaginians were equipping a fleet. He therefore gave attention both to that preparation and no less to the siege of Utica.

Yet he had not completely abandoned hope in regard to Syphax. Since their forces were not far apart, he kept sending messages, convinced that he would draw him away from the alliance with the Carthaginians.

For he did not despair that the king had already begun to feel satiety with the girl for whose sake he had chosen the Carthaginian side, and in general with his friendship for the Phoenicians, because of the natural fickleness of the Numidians and their disregard alike for gods and men.

But since his mind was occupied with many concerns and he entertained shifting hopes about the future, while dreading the danger before him because the enemy were many times more numerous, he seized on the following opportunity.

Some of the men sent to Syphax reported to him that the Carthaginians in their winter camp had made their huts from all kinds of timber and leafy brush, without earth, while the Numidians made theirs from reeds, and the reinforcements now gathering from the towns were for the present building shelters from foliage alone, some inside the ditch and stockade, but most of them outside.

Publius therefore concluded that an attack by fire would be, for the enemy, the most unexpected course possible, and for his own side the most practical. So he turned his attention to preparing this plan.

In his exchanges with Publius, Syphax always came back to the same proposal: that the Carthaginians should withdraw from Italy, the Romans likewise from Libya, and that each side should keep whatever lay between those regions as they then held it.

Previously Publius would not tolerate even hearing of this. But now, through the men sent to him, he gave the Numidian a slight indication that the proposal he was making was not impossible.

As a result, Syphax, greatly relieved, became much bolder in pressing the matter.

So the number of messengers passing back and forth increased, and they came more frequently; sometimes they even stayed several days with one another without exciting suspicion.

On those occasions Publius always sent along with the envoys certain practical and military men, rough-looking and lowly, dressed in slave clothing, so that they might safely reconnoiter and inspect the approaches and entrances to each camp.

For there were two encampments: one, held by Hasdrubal, with thirty thousand infantry and three thousand cavalry; the other, about ten stades away, was the Numidian camp, with ten thousand horse and about fifty thousand foot.

This latter camp was easier to approach and its huts were especially fit to be burned, because the Numidians, as I said just now, used neither timber nor earth in building them, but simply canes and reeds.

Chapter 1a Preface

Polybius says of himself and of the plan of his books: perhaps, then, the summaries prefixed to each Olympiad bring readers to understanding both because of the number and because of the greatness of the events, since deeds from the whole inhabited world are being brought under one general view.

Yet I think the events of this Olympiad especially will make an impression on readers, first because in this period the wars in Italy and Libya reached their conclusion. And who would not wish to learn what sort of outcome and ending they had?

For by nature all people, even if they take in the particular actions and speeches only in outline, nevertheless long to know the end of each story.

Besides this, it happened that at the same time the intentions of the kings became especially plain. For what had previously been said about them as rumor was then clearly recognized by everyone, even by those who had no desire at all to pry into public affairs.

Therefore, wishing to make the exposition proportionate to the importance of the events, I have not arranged the actions of those two years into a single book, as I did in the earlier parts of the work.

Chapter 2 Scipio Prepares to Attack Utica by Sea

When the season of spring was already beginning to show itself, and Scipio had fully investigated everything concerning the enemy for the attack just mentioned, he launched his ships and fitted them with engines as though he intended to besiege Utica from the sea.

With about two thousand infantry he once more occupied the hill above the city and strongly fortified it with elaborate trenchworks, making the enemy think he was doing this for the sake of the siege, though in truth he wanted to place a reserve there for the crucial moment of the operation, so that when the camps were separated from the Roman position, the soldiers watching Utica might not dare to sally out from the city, attack the nearby palisade, and besiege those guarding it.

While he was making these preparations, he also sent repeatedly to Syphax, asking whether, if he accepted the proposals being made, the Carthaginians too would be content with them, or whether they would once again say that they must deliberate about the concessions.

At the same time he instructed the envoys not to return to him before they had received an answer on these points.

When they arrived and delivered the message, the Numidian was persuaded that Scipio really meant to bring the negotiations to completion, both because the envoys said they would not depart before receiving his reply, and because Scipio showed concern about the Carthaginians' assent.

Accordingly Syphax at once sent to Hasdrubal, explaining what had happened and urging him to accept peace; and he himself grew careless, allowing the Numidians who were joining him to camp outside his entrenchment.

Publius, for appearances, behaved in much the same way; in reality, however, he was pressing his preparations with the utmost energy.

When the Carthaginians informed Syphax that they agreed to conclude matters according to the terms, and the Numidian, delighted, communicated this to the envoys, the envoys immediately departed for their own camp to report to Publius what the king had done.

On hearing this, the Roman commander at once sent another embassy to Syphax to tell him that Publius himself approved and was eager for peace, but that the members of his council disagreed and insisted on standing by the existing position.

When they arrived, they conveyed this message to the Numidian.

Scipio made this embassy in order not to seem to be violating the truce, if, while the heralded negotiations for peace were still continuing between the two sides, he should undertake some act of war.

Once this declaration had been made, he believed that whatever he went on to do would be beyond reproach.

Chapter 3 Syphax and Hasdrubal Are Deluded

Syphax heard this with irritation, because he had already formed strong hopes about the peace; but he went to confer with Hasdrubal and explained the message brought him from the Romans.

After much perplexed discussion, they considered how they ought to handle what came next, being very far in their thoughts and plans from what was actually about to happen.

For they had no suspicion at all that they needed to take precautions or that some terrible blow was hanging over them; rather, they were full of eagerness to do something themselves and to draw the

enemy down onto level ground.

At this time Publius, by his preparations and his orders, led the mass of the army to suppose that he had some operation in hand against Utica, but, summoning at midday the ablest and most trustworthy tribunes, he disclosed the plan to them and ordered them, after taking supper at the proper hour, to lead the forces outside the palisade as soon as all the trumpeters gave the usual signal together.

For among the Romans it is the custom at supper time for all the buglers and trumpeters to sound near the general's tent, so that the night watches may then take up their posts in the usual places.

After this he called back the scouts whom he had been sending into the enemy camps and compared and examined their reports about the approaches and entrances to the encampments, using Masinissa, because of his knowledge of the country, as both judge of what they said and adviser.

Chapter 4 The Romans Burn the Enemy Camp

When everything needed for the present operation was ready, he left in the camp men sufficient and suitable for its defense, took up his forces, and advanced just as the first watch was ending, for the enemy were about sixty stades away.

When he drew near the enemy, around the close of the third watch, he assigned half the soldiers and all the Numidians to Gaius Laelius and Masinissa, ordering them to attack Syphax's palisade, and exhorting them to prove themselves brave men and do nothing rashly, knowing clearly that, in proportion as darkness hinders and blocks the use of sight, night attacks require that one make up the loss by intelligence and courage.

He himself took the rest of the army and advanced against Hasdrubal. His calculation was not to begin the attack until Laelius and his force had first thrown fire among the enemy.

So, with these intentions, he advanced at a measured pace. Meanwhile the force under Laelius divided itself into two parts and attacked the enemy at the same time.

Since the arrangement of the huts was, as I said earlier, almost as though purposely designed for burning, the moment the leading men cast in the fire and it spread among the first tents, the disaster at once became uncontrollable because the huts stood so close together and because of the mass of combustible material beneath them.

Laelius stayed behind in reserve formation; but Masinissa, knowing the places by which those fleeing the fire were likely to retreat, stationed his soldiers at those points.

None of the Numidians had the least suspicion of what was happening—not even Syphax himself—but they took it to be an accidental fire in the palisade.

So some sprang from sleep without any suspicion, while others were still drinking and half drunk as they rushed from the huts.

Many were trampled down by their own people at the camp exits; many, hemmed in by the blaze, were burned alive; and those who did escape the flames all fell into the hands of the enemy and were destroyed, knowing neither what they were suffering nor what they were doing.

Chapter 5 Dreadful Scene In the Burning Camps

At this same moment the Carthaginians, seeing the mass of the fire and the greatness of the flame leaping up, supposed that the Numidians' palisade had caught fire by accident. Some of them therefore ran straight out to help, while all the rest poured unarmed out of their camp and gathered before their own encampment, astonished at what was happening.

Scipio, since events were advancing exactly as he could have wished, fell upon those who had come out, killing some and, by chasing others back, at the same time throwing fire into the huts.

Once this happened, the Phoenicians suffered under the fire and the whole surrounding confusion much the same fate as I have just described in the case of the Numidians.

Hasdrubal and those with him at once gave up trying to fight the fire, recognizing from what was happening that the disaster among the Numidians too had not arisen accidentally, as they had thought, but from the enemy's attack and daring.

So they turned to saving themselves, though even in this there remained only a slight hope.

For the fire spread rapidly and took hold everywhere, while the passages were clogged with horses, pack animals, and men—some half dead and ruined by the fire, others frenzied with terror and driven out of their senses.

Thus these things became obstacles even to those resolved to fight bravely, and amid the panic and confusion escape was hopeless.

The case of Syphax and the other commanders was much the same. Yet both of the principal leaders managed to save themselves with a few horsemen.

But the remaining myriads of men, horses, and pack animals perished miserably and pitifully in the flames.

Some of the men, fleeing the force of the fire, met an ugly and shameful end at the hands of the enemy, being slaughtered naked, deprived not only of their weapons but even of their clothes.

In general the whole place was full of lamentation, disorderly shouting, fear, and a bewildering crash of noises, along with active fire and overwhelming flame.

Any one of these things by itself would have been enough to strike terror into human nature, much more when all of them came together in so astounding a fashion.

Therefore no one alive could, even by exaggeration, adequately match what happened, so completely did this disaster surpass all the events mentioned before in sheer horror.

For that reason, although Scipio accomplished many great and noble deeds, this seems to me the finest and boldest of all his achievements [...]

Chapter 6 Anda Surrenders to Rome

Yet when day came, and the enemy were either destroyed or in headlong flight, he exhorted the tribunes and at once pressed on in pursuit.

At first the Carthaginian commander stood his ground, even after receiving news of Scipio's advance, because he trusted in the strength of the city.

But afterward, seeing that the inhabitants were in revolt, and terrified by Scipio's approach, he fled with those who had escaped—no fewer than five hundred cavalry and about two thousand infantry.

The native inhabitants, now of one mind, put themselves in Roman hands.

Publius spared them, but he allowed the two neighboring cities to be plundered by the troops; and when he had accomplished this, he returned again to his original camp.

The Carthaginians, since their hopes had turned out contrary to the plans with which they had begun, took what had happened very hard.

For they had expected to shut up the Romans on the headland near Utica, where they had spent the winter, and to besiege them there, using their land forces on the one side and their naval forces on the other; and for this purpose they had prepared everything.

But now they found that not only had they unexpectedly and absurdly yielded the open country to the enemy, they were also brought to expect an imminent danger for themselves and their fatherland; therefore they were utterly stricken and panic-filled in spirit.

Still, since circumstances compelled them to make some provision and take counsel for the future, the council chamber was filled with bewilderment and with varied, troubled schemes.

Some said that they must send for Hannibal and recall him from Italy, since their one remaining hope lay in that general and the forces under him.

Others urged that envoys should be sent to Publius to discuss an armistice and speak about peace terms and a treaty, while others said they must keep heart, gather their forces, and send to Syphax.

For, they said, he had withdrawn nearby to Abba and was gathering together those who had escaped the danger. In the end this last opinion prevailed.

Chapter 7 Carthaginians Reinforced and Resolute

So they set about collecting forces, sent out Hasdrubal, and dispatched messengers to Syphax, begging him to assist them and to hold to the original plan, since very soon the general, with his forces, would link up with him. The Roman commander meanwhile continued to work at the siege of Utica; but for the most part, hearing that Syphax was holding firm and that the Carthaginians were again gathering an army, he led out his forces and encamped in front of Utica.

At the same time, after distributing the spoils [...]

[...] he sent off the merchants [...]

[...] on profitable terms. For since the recent success held out a fine hope about the whole result, the soldiers made little account of their present gain and readily disposed of it to the merchants.

As for the king of the Numidians and his friends, at first they decided to continue their retreat straight home.

But when the Celtiberians met them near Abba—men who had been hired by the Carthaginians and numbered more than four thousand—they put confidence in this reinforcement, halted where they were, and took a little courage in spirit.

At the same time the girl—who was the daughter of the general Hasdrubal and the wife of Syphax, as I said above—begged and pleaded with him to remain and not abandon the Carthaginians at such a crisis. The Numidian was persuaded and agreed to what was asked.

The Celtiberians also gave the Carthaginians no small grounds for hope. Instead of four thousand, they reported them to be ten thousand, and said that in battle they were irresistible both in spirit and in equipment.

Lifted up by this report and by the coarse and public chatter that spread everywhere, the Carthaginians were twice as strongly encouraged to try once more for the open country.

Finally, within thirty days, they pitched a camp on the place called the Great Plains together with the Numidians and the Celtiberians, the whole force numbering no fewer than thirty thousand.

Chapter 8 Scipio Determines to Attack

When news of this reached the Roman camp, Publius at once set about marching out. After giving instructions to those besieging Utica and to the force operating by sea about what they ought to do, he advanced with the whole army in light marching order.

On the fifth day he arrived at the Great Plains and, after coming near the enemy, on the first day encamped on a certain hill about thirty stades away from them.

On the next day he descended into the plain and pitched camp seven stades away, posting the cavalry in front.

They remained there for the next two days, testing one another a little by skirmishing attacks; on the fourth day both sides deliberately led out and drew up their forces.

Publius arranged his line in the ordinary Roman fashion, placing first the standards of the hastati, behind them those of the principes, and lastly those of the triarii in the rear.

Of the cavalry he stationed the Italian horse on the right and the Numidians with Masinissa on the left.

Syphax and Hasdrubal placed the Celtiberians in the center opposite the Roman infantry formations, the Numidians on the left wing, and the Carthaginians on the right.

At the very first onset the Numidians gave way before the Italian cavalry, and the Carthaginians before the men under Masinissa, already utterly defeated in spirit by their repeated previous failures.

But the Celtiberians fought bravely when they came to close quarters with the Romans. For they had no hope of safety in flight, because they did not know the country, nor, if taken alive, any hope of being spared because of their faithlessness toward Publius.

For, though they had suffered no injury from him during the operations in Iberia, they seemed to have come unjustly and in violation of good faith to aid the Carthaginians against the Romans.

Nevertheless, as soon as the troops on the wings had broken, they were quickly surrounded by the principes and triarii and all cut down except for a very few.

Thus the Celtiberians perished, but not before rendering great service to the Carthaginians, not only during the battle itself but also during the retreat.

For if they had not hindered the Romans, and if the Romans had immediately pressed on after the fugitives, only a very few of the enemy would have escaped altogether.

But as it was, because the Romans were delayed by dealing with them, Syphax and his cavalry withdrew safely to their own country, while Hasdrubal escaped with those saved from the disaster to Carthage.

Chapter 9 Scipio's Victory On the Great Plains

When the Roman commander had made proper arrangements about the spoil and the prisoners, he summoned the council and deliberated about what ought to be done next.

It was resolved that the commander, Publius, should remain with part of the force and move through the cities, while Laelius and Masinissa, taking the Numidians and part of the Roman army, should pursue Syphax and give him no time to recover his wits or prepare.

Having reached this decision, they separated, the one party going against Syphax with the forces mentioned, while the commander himself went against the cities.

Some of these attached themselves voluntarily to the Romans out of fear; others he besieged and took by storm.

Indeed, the whole country was ripe for a change, since it had long been exposed without interruption to hardships and exactions, because the wars in Iberia had lasted so many years.

In Carthage, where there had already been great disorder, an even greater upheaval now followed, since they had suffered so severe a blow for the second time and had given up the hopes they had previously entertained.

Still, those among the advisers who seemed the most manly urged that they should now put to sea with the fleet against those besieging Utica, attempt to raise the siege, and fight a naval battle with the enemy, who were unprepared in that respect.

They also argued that men should be sent to Hannibal and that they should, without any delay, put even this hope to the test, since both enterprises offered, on reasonable grounds, great opportunities for saving themselves.

Others said the times no longer allowed such measures, and that they must fortify the city and prepare for a siege; for chance, if only they remained united, would offer them many opportunities.

At the same time they advised deliberating about peace and treaty terms—on what conditions and by what means they might free themselves from their present troubles.

Chapter 10 Scipio Fears a Carthaginian Attack on the Fleet

And after many more speeches on these matters, they ratified all the proposals together. After these decisions were made, those who were to sail to Italy went straight from the council chamber down to the sea, and the admiral went to the ships; the rest took thought for the security of the city and kept continually deliberating about details.

Publius meanwhile, as his camp was already filling up with booty because no one resisted and everyone yielded to his attacks, decided to send the greater part of the plunder back to his original camp.

He himself took the army in light marching order and moved to seize the entrenchment at Tunes, so that he might encamp within sight of the Carthaginians; for he thought that in this way he would frighten and overawe them most of all.

A few days later the Carthaginians, with their crews and provisions ready aboard ship, were putting to sea to carry out their plan, when Publius came to Tunes and, the guards fleeing from his attack, occupied the place.

Tunes lies about one hundred and twenty stades from Carthage and is visible from nearly the whole city, besides being strong both by nature and by fortification, as I have said before.

Just as the Romans had pitched camp there, the Carthaginians set sail for Utica.

Publius, seeing the enemy sailing up and fearing that something might happen to his own fleet, was thrown into anxiety, since everyone there was caught completely off guard and wholly unprepared for what was coming.

So he immediately broke camp again and hurried back to assist his own side.

When he found that the decked ships were well and properly equipped for hauling and bringing up engines and in general for siege operations, but were least of all prepared for a sea battle, whereas the enemy fleet had spent the entire winter fitting itself out for precisely that purpose, he gave up any thought of sailing out to meet them and fight a naval action. Instead he moored the decked ships together and set the transports around them in lines three and four deep.

Then he took down the masts and yards and lashed the ships forcibly together by means of these, leaving small intervals, enough for light service craft to sail out and pass through.

Chapter 11 Women at Alexandria

Polybius says in his fourteenth book that Philo became the flatterer of Agathocles, son of Oenanthe and companion of King Philopator.

Polybius also says in the fourteenth book of the Histories that many statues of Cleino, who served Ptolemy Philadelphus as his wine-pourer, were set up throughout Alexandria, dressed in a single tunic and holding a drinking horn in their hands.

And are not the finest houses there, he says, called by the names of Myrtion, Mnesis, and Pothine?

Yet Mnesis was a flute-girl, and so was Pothine; while Myrtion was one of the officially recognized common prostitutes.

And was it not Agathocleia, the mistress of King Ptolemy Philopator, who held power and overturned the whole kingdom?

Chapter 12 Ptolemy Philopator, 222–205 BC

Perhaps some people may wonder why, although I write the rest of my history year by year, pairing parallel events together, I have in the present case treated the affairs of Egypt over a longer span of time.

I have done this for reasons of the following sort.

King Ptolemy, the one now under discussion, Philopator, after the war over Coele Syria had been brought to an end, turned away from every noble pursuit and gave himself over to a life of dissipation such as I have just described.

Late and only under compulsion from events, he became involved in the war now mentioned, which, apart from the mutual cruelty and lawlessness shown by the two sides, had neither pitched battle, nor sea fight, nor siege, nor anything else worthy of record.

Therefore it seemed to me, the writer, that the narrative would be easier and also clearer for readers if I did not touch year by year on small matters unworthy of serious attention, but instead, by presenting the king's disposition in one single body, should report on it once for all.

Book XV

The Battle of Zama (202 BC): Roman maniples opening lanes to channel charging Carthaginian war elephants. Book XV, 9–14.

Chapter 1 Speech of Roman Envoys At Carthage

When the Carthaginians seized the Roman transport ships, along with a vast quantity of supplies, Scipio was deeply angered, not only because those provisions had been taken from his own side, but because the enemy had been furnished with an abundant store of necessities.

He was even more indignant because the Carthaginians had broken their oaths and their treaty, and had started the war again from the beginning.

So he immediately chose Lucius Sergius, Lucius Baebius, and Lucius Fabius as envoys and sent them to speak to the Carthaginians about what had happened, while also announcing that the Roman people had ratified the treaty.

For letters had just reached Scipio making this clear.

When the envoys arrived at Carthage, they were brought first before the senate and then before the people, and in both settings they spoke openly about the situation.

They first reminded them that the Carthaginian ambassadors, when they had come to Tunes and entered the Roman council, had not merely greeted the gods and bowed down to the earth, as men commonly do, but had actually thrown themselves flat on the earth in a shameful way and kissed the feet of those sitting in council. After that, standing up again, they had accused themselves, admitting that they themselves had broken the treaties first made between Romans and Carthaginians.

Therefore, they said, they were not unaware that any punishment the Romans chose to inflict would be deserved; yet, for the sake of the changes of human fortune, they begged not to suffer anything beyond remedy, since their own folly would provide proof of Roman nobility and generosity.

Remembering all this, the envoys said, their general and all who had been present in that council were astonished that the Carthaginians could forget what they themselves had said then, and now dare to violate their oaths and treaty.

This, they said, could only mean that they were trusting in Hannibal and the forces with him, and in that they were badly mistaken.

For everyone knew perfectly well that now for the second year he and his army had been driven from all Italy and shut up near the Lacinian promontory, almost under siege, and had now barely escaped with their lives.

And even if he had come as a conqueror, they said, and even if he were about to fight men who had already beaten the Carthaginians in two successive battles, they still ought to hold uncertain hopes about the future, and think not only about victory but also about defeat.

If that happened, what gods would they call upon?

With what words would they try to draw pity from the victors for their disasters? By their faithlessness and folly, they would cut themselves off from every hope, both from gods and from men.

Chapter 2 Treacherous Attempt on the Lives of the Roman Envoys

After speaking in this way, the envoys withdrew.

Among the Carthaginians only a few were willing to keep the agreement. Most of those active in politics and in the senate resented the terms of the treaty, were offended by the frankness of the envoys, and were unwilling to give back the captured ships and the provisions taken from them.

What chiefly sustained them was not a small hope but a great one: they believed they could still win by means of Hannibal.

So the general vote was to send the envoys away without any answer. But the political leaders who were determined, by any means at all, to throw the war back into confusion met together and devised the following treachery.

They said that proper care should be taken for the envoys, so that they might return safely to their own camp.

They therefore at once prepared two triremes to escort them, but also sent instructions to Hasdrubal the admiral to keep ships ready not far from the Roman camp, so that once the escort vessels had left the Romans, he could swoop down and sink them.

For the Carthaginian fleet was lying off the coast near Utica.

After arranging this with Hasdrubal, they sent the Romans off and instructed the officers of the triremes to abandon them and sail away as soon as they had passed the river Macara.

From that point the Roman camp could already be seen.

So, once they had gone beyond the river as agreed, the escorting crews saluted the Romans and turned back.

Lucius and his companions suspected nothing serious. They were merely annoyed, thinking the escorts had left them early out of carelessness or disrespect.

But as soon as they were sailing alone, three Carthaginian triremes came darting out from ambush and attacked. They could not ram and disable the Roman quinquereme, because it kept backing water and

avoiding the blow, nor could they board it, because the men defended themselves bravely.

Still, by coming alongside and fighting all around the ship, they wounded the marines and killed many of them.

At last the Romans saw men from their own camp, who had been foraging along the coast, rushing down to help from the shore, and so they ran their ship aground.

Most of those aboard were killed, but the envoys themselves were saved in a most unexpected way.

Chapter 3 Last Year of the Second Punic War

These events gave the war a new beginning, harsher and more bitter than before.

The Romans, believing that the treaty had been treacherously violated, were fiercely determined to overcome the Carthaginians; and the Carthaginians, conscious of what they had done, were ready for anything rather than fall into enemy hands.

With both sides so disposed, it was obvious that the present crisis would have to be settled by battle.

As a result, not only everyone in Italy and Libya but also those in Iberia, Sicily, and Sardinia were left hanging in suspense, anxiously waiting to see what would happen.

At this time Hannibal, being short of cavalry, sent messages to a Numidian named Tychaeus, a kinsman of Syphax who was said to command some of the finest mounted troops in Libya.

He urged him to come to his aid and seize the opportunity, since, as he clearly knew, if the Carthaginians won he would be able to preserve his own power, but if the Romans prevailed he would put even his life in danger because of Masinissa's ambition.

Tychaeus was persuaded by this appeal and came to Hannibal with two thousand cavalry.

Chapter 4 Scipio Sends the Envoys Home

After securing his naval force and leaving Baebius as his lieutenant, Scipio himself moved through the cities.

This time he no longer accepted into protection those who willingly surrendered themselves, but took the cities by force, sold their inhabitants into slavery, and made his anger visible because the Carthaginians had broken faith.

He kept sending messages to Masinissa, making clear how the Phoenicians had violated the truce and urging him to gather as large a force as possible and join him quickly.

For Masinissa, as was said earlier, had set out as soon as the treaty was made, taking his own troops along with ten Roman standards of cavalry and infantry and certain envoys from Scipio, in order not only to recover his ancestral kingdom but, with Roman help, to add Syphax's realm as well. And this in fact came to pass.

It happened at the same time that the envoys sent from Rome sailed into the Roman naval camp.

Baebius immediately sent the Roman envoys on to Scipio, but kept the Carthaginian envoys under guard. They were thoroughly dispirited and thought themselves in extreme danger.

For when they learned of the outrage their countrymen had committed against the Roman ambassadors, they expected that the punishment for it would fall on them.

But Scipio, when he heard from the men just arrived that both Senate and people at Rome had warmly approved the treaty he had made with the Carthaginians and were ready to grant all he requested, was greatly pleased.

He then ordered Baebius to send the Carthaginian envoys home with every mark of humanity, a decision that seems to me both admirable and prudent.

For knowing how highly his own country valued good faith toward envoys, he considered not so much what the Carthaginians deserved to suffer as what the Romans ought to do.

So, restraining his own anger and the bitterness caused by what had happened, he tried, as the proverb says, to preserve the fine traditions handed down by his fathers.

In this way he conquered all the Carthaginians in spirit, and Hannibal himself as well, by setting Roman nobility above their folly.

Chapter 5 Both Sides Prepare For Battle

When the Carthaginians saw their cities being sacked, they sent to Hannibal, begging him not to delay but to come to close quarters with the enemy and decide the matter by battle.

He answered the messengers that they should concern themselves with other matters and leave this to him, since he himself would judge the right moment.

A few days later he broke camp from the region near Hadrumetum, advanced, and encamped near Zama, a city about five days' journey west of Carthage. From there he sent out three spies, wanting to learn where the Romans were encamped and how their general had arranged his camp.

When these spies were brought before Scipio, he was so far from punishing them, as others normally would, that he assigned them a tribune and ordered him to show them everything in the camp plainly and in full.

When that had been done, he asked the men whether the officer had shown them everything carefully.

When they said he had, Scipio gave them supplies and an escort and sent them away with orders to report accurately to Hannibal all they had seen.

When they returned, Hannibal was so struck by the man's greatness of spirit and daring that he felt a strong desire to meet Scipio in person.

So he sent a herald, saying that he wished to confer with him about the whole situation.

When Scipio heard the herald's message, he agreed and said he would send word himself, naming the place and time, when he was ready to meet.

The herald, after hearing this, returned to Hannibal's camp.

The next day Masinissa arrived with about six thousand infantry and four thousand cavalry.

Scipio received him warmly and congratulated him on having made all those who had formerly obeyed Syphax subject to his power.

Then he broke camp and, after reaching the city of Naragara, encamped there, having chosen a place well suited in other respects and with a water supply close at hand.

Chapter 6 Meeting of Hannibal and Scipio

From there Scipio sent to the Carthaginian general, saying that he was ready to meet and speak with him.

When Hannibal heard this, he broke camp and moved nearer, until he was no more than thirty stades away, and pitched his camp by a hill that seemed suitable enough for the occasion, except that the water supply was a little too distant, so that the soldiers suffered considerable hardship over it.

On the following day both commanders advanced from their camps with a small body of cavalry. Then, leaving their escorts behind, they came together in the space between, each accompanied only by an interpreter.

Hannibal greeted him first and began by saying that he wished the Romans had never desired any possession outside Italy, nor the Carthaginians any outside Libya.

For these, he said, were the finest dominions for each people, and in a sense seemed to have been marked out by nature itself.

But since they had first gone to war over Sicily, then again over Iberia, and at last, still not taught a lesson by Fortune, had advanced so far that one side had risked the very soil of its fatherland while the other was even now doing so, nothing remained but, if possible, by their own efforts to placate the gods and put an end to the rivalry now before them.

For his own part, he said, he was ready to do this, because experience had taught him that Fortune is quick to change and can tilt great matters either way on the slightest occasion, handling human beings almost like little children.

Chapter 7 Conclusion of Hannibal's Speech

And yet, Hannibal said, it was chiefly for Scipio himself that he felt concern, because Scipio was still very young, because everything in Iberia and Libya had gone according to his wishes, and because he had not yet experienced the ebb of Fortune. Hannibal feared that for these reasons Scipio might not be persuaded by words that were nevertheless true.

But, he said, consider the reality from one example, not from some story of long ago, but from their own generation.

I am that Hannibal who, after the battle of Cannae, became master of almost all Italy and, after some time, came to Rome itself and encamped within forty stades of it, deliberating how I should deal with you and the soil of your fatherland.

And now I am here in Libya, meeting with you, a Roman, to discuss the safety of myself and the Carthaginians. Looking at this, do not be proud, but deliberate like a man, with full awareness of the human condition. That means always choosing the greatest good and the least evil.

For what sensible man would willingly rush into the danger now set before you? If you win, you will add little to your own glory or to that of your country; but if you lose, you will by your own act wipe away all the noble and splendid things you have achieved before now.

So what is the purpose of all I am saying?

That everything over which we previously disputed should belong to the Romans—Sicily, Sardinia, and the territories in Iberia—and that the Carthaginians should never again wage war against Rome over these matters; and likewise that all the other islands lying between Italy and Libya should belong to Rome.

For I am convinced that these terms would be the safest for the future of Carthage, and the most honorable for you and for all the Romans.

Chapter 8 Scipio's reply

Such was Hannibal's speech. Scipio answered that in neither the war over Sicily nor that over Iberia had the Romans been the aggressors; plainly the Carthaginians had been, and no one knew that better than Hannibal himself.

The gods themselves, he said, had borne witness to this by granting victory not to those who first laid unjust hands on others, but to those who defended themselves.

He too, no less than anyone else, kept before his eyes the uncertainties of Fortune and tried, so far as he could, to reckon within the limits of human life.

But if Hannibal had withdrawn from Italy before the Romans crossed into Libya and had then proposed these terms of settlement, Scipio said, he did not think Hannibal would have been disappointed in his hopes.

As it was, Hannibal had left Italy against his will, while the Romans had crossed into Libya and taken control of the open country; so the position of affairs had plainly changed greatly.

And above all, to what point had matters now come?

After Hannibal's countrymen had been defeated and had begged for terms, written agreements had been drawn up, in which, besides the concessions Hannibal was now offering, the Carthaginians were to return prisoners without ransom, surrender their warships, pay five thousand talents, and give hostages for the performance of these terms.

These were the terms mutually agreed. Both sides had sent embassies to senate and people alike: the Romans declaring that they approved the treaty, the Carthaginians begging that it be granted to them.

The Senate had agreed, and the people had ratified it. Yet after obtaining what they asked for, the Carthaginians broke the agreement and violated the truce toward Rome.

What, then, was left for him to do?

Let Hannibal, Scipio said, put himself in Scipio's place and say: should the Romans remove the harshest of the imposed terms, so that by receiving a reward for lawlessness the Carthaginians might learn in future to break faith even with benefactors? Or was he to suppose that, once granted what they demanded, they would owe Rome gratitude?

Why, after receiving as suppliants exactly what they had asked for, simply because they caught some slight hope through Hannibal, they had immediately treated the Romans as enemies and opponents.

In such circumstances, he said, if even harsher terms were imposed, it might still be possible to refer the settlement back to the Roman people; but any proposal to remove what had already been laid down was not even fit for discussion.

So this was his conclusion: the Carthaginians must place themselves and their fatherland at Roman discretion, or else win by fighting.

Chapter 9 Dispositions For the Battle of Zama

After this exchange Hannibal and Scipio parted, their conference having ended without agreement.

At first light the next day both commanders led out their armies and began the contest—for the Carthaginians it was a fight for their own survival and for power in Libya, for the Romans a struggle

for universal empire and supremacy.

And who, understanding the situation, would not be moved by the story?

One could hardly have found armies more fit for war, or commanders more successful and more practiced in every labor of battle, nor could Fortune have set before combatants greater prizes than those now at stake.

For the victors in this battle were destined to become masters not only of Libya or of Europe, but of all the other parts of the inhabited world that now lie within the scope of history. And that indeed came to pass not long afterward.

Scipio drew up his own forces in the following way.

First he posted the hastati, with intervals between the maniples; behind them the principes, placing their companies not opposite the gaps in the front line, as Roman custom usually required, but directly behind the first line and at some distance, because of the great number of elephants in the enemy army. Last of all he stationed the triarii.

On the wings he placed Gaius Laelius on the left with the Italian cavalry, and Masinissa on the right with all the Numidians under his command.

The gaps between the front maniples he filled with units of javelin-men, ordering them to begin the fighting.

If they were driven back by the elephants' charge, some were to retreat through the straight lanes between the maniples to the rear of the whole force, while any who were caught up at close quarters were to slip aside into the lateral spaces by the standards.

Chapter 10 Scipio's Speech to his Men

After making these arrangements, Scipio moved along the line encouraging the troops, speaking briefly but in a way perfectly suited to the danger before them.

He called on them to remember their earlier struggles, to show themselves brave men worthy of themselves and of their country, and to keep before their eyes that, if they defeated the enemy, they would not only secure complete possession of affairs in Libya, but also win for themselves and for Rome the undisputed leadership and dominion of the rest of the world.

But if the danger turned out otherwise, then those who died nobly in battle would have the finest memorial, a death for their fatherland, while those who escaped by flight would live the rest of their days in the deepest shame and misery.

For there was no place in Libya that could provide safety for fugitives, and anyone who judged matters rightly could already see what would happen if they fell into Carthaginian hands. "May none of you,"

he said, “learn that by experience.”

Since Fortune had set before them the greatest of prizes, whichever way the battle went, would they not be the basest and most senseless of men if, out of mere love of life, they let go the noblest of goods and deliberately chose the worst of evils?

So he urged them, with only two things set before them—victory or death—to go straight at the enemy.

For men who hold such a resolve, he said, necessarily defeat those drawn up against them, once they go into battle having given up all hope of life.

Chapter 11 Hannibal’s Preparations and Speech

Such was Scipio’s exhortation. Hannibal, for his part, placed the elephants—more than eighty of them—in front of his entire army; after them he stationed the mercenaries, about twelve thousand in number, consisting of Ligurians, Gauls, Balearians, and Mauretanians.

Behind these he drew up the native Libyans and Carthaginians, and behind all the rest, at a distance of more than a stade from the troops in front, the men who had come with him from Italy.

He secured his wings with cavalry, placing the allied Numidians on the left and the Carthaginian horse on the right.

He ordered each group’s officers to encourage their own men, telling them to rest their hopes of victory on Hannibal himself and on the forces he had brought with him.

The Carthaginian officers he instructed to set plainly before their men what would happen to their children and wives if the battle turned out badly. So they did as they had been told.

Hannibal himself rode along the men who had come with him and urged them at greater length to remember the seventeen years of comradeship they had shared, and to remember how many contests with the Romans they had fought.

In all those struggles, he said, they had remained undefeated and had never even left the Romans any hope of victory.

Above all, setting aside the lesser battles and their countless advantages, they must keep before their eyes the battle by the river Trebia against the father of the present Roman commander, then the battle in Etruria against Flaminius, and after that the battle at Cannae against Aemilius, battles with which the present danger could not compare, whether in the number of enemy troops or in their quality.

As he said this, he told them to look up and inspect the enemy ranks. They would see that these men were not only fewer than those they had fought before, but not even a small fraction of them, and in fighting quality they did not deserve comparison.

Those earlier Roman armies, he said, had fought them fresh and undefeated, whereas these were either the sons or the surviving remnants of the men beaten in Italy and made to flee before him again and again.

Therefore they must not destroy either their own reputation or the fame of their commander, but by fighting bravely confirm the report handed down about them, that they were unconquered.

Such, or words very like these, were the exhortations made on both sides.

Chapter 12 The Battle of Zama Begins

Once everything on both sides was ready for battle, and the Numidian cavalry had already been skirmishing with one another for some time, Hannibal gave the order for the elephant-drivers to charge the enemy.

But when the trumpets and horns sounded all around them, some of the beasts were thrown into confusion and wheeled about against the Numidian allies supporting the Carthaginians; [...] of Masinissa's men [...] the Carthaginian left wing was quickly stripped bare.

The rest of the elephants collided with the Roman javelin-men in the space between the battle lines and both inflicted and suffered heavy damage.

At last, terrified, some of them ran off down the lanes between the Roman formations, the Romans receiving them safely, just as their general had planned, while others, veering to the right and being showered with missiles from the cavalry, were finally driven out beyond the ground between the camps.

At that moment Laelius too, taking advantage of the confusion caused by the elephants, charged and forced the Carthaginian cavalry into headlong flight.

He pursued the fugitives vigorously, and Masinissa did the same.

Meanwhile the infantry lines on both sides advanced upon one another at a measured pace and with proud confidence—all except the troops who had come from Italy with Hannibal, who held their original position.

When the opposing lines came close, the Romans raised their customary battle cry, beat their swords against their shields, and charged.

But the Carthaginian mercenaries raised a confused and discordant clamor, for, as the poet says, "their cry was not one and the same, nor was their speech one," since they were men of many peoples and many tongues, just as I listed a moment ago.

Chapter 13 Cowardice of the Carthaginians

Now that the struggle had become a hand-to-hand fight, man against man, the mercenaries at first had the advantage in skill and boldness and wounded many Romans.

But the Romans, trusting in the firmness of their formation and in their equipment, kept pressing steadily forward.

At the same time, the Romans were supported and encouraged by the troops behind them, whereas the Carthaginians neither came up to aid their mercenaries nor closed in behind them, but lost heart.

So in the end the foreign troops gave way, and thinking they had been openly abandoned by their own side, they turned on the men posted behind them as they retreated and began killing them.

This forced many Carthaginians to die bravely against their will, since, while being slaughtered by the mercenaries, they had to fight at once against their own men and against the Romans.

Fighting in this wild and disordered fashion, they killed quite a number on both sides, friend and enemy alike.

By charging in this way they threw the maniples of the hastati into confusion. But when the officers of the principes saw what had happened, they halted and brought up their own line.

Most of the mercenaries and Carthaginians were then cut down, some by one another and some by the hastati themselves.

As for those who survived and fled, Hannibal did not allow them to mix with his reserve. He ordered his officers to present their weapons and prevent the fugitives from entering.

So these men were forced to withdraw toward the wings and the open spaces there.

Chapter 14 Final Struggle at Zama and the Roman Victory

But the ground between the armies that still remained in position was full of blood, slaughter, and corpses, and the obstruction left by the rout created a serious difficulty for the Roman commander.

For the slippery footing caused by the dead, lying in heaps and soaked with blood, and the confusion of weapons scattered everywhere among the bodies were bound to make orderly advance extremely difficult.

Even so, Scipio carried the wounded to the rear of the line, recalled the pursuing hastati by trumpet signal, and stationed them directly in front of the enemy center.

Then he closed up the principes and triarii on each wing and ordered them to advance through the corpses.

When they had come through and drawn level with the hastati, the lines clashed with the greatest fury and eagerness.

Since both sides were nearly equal in numbers, spirit, courage, and equipment, the battle remained undecided for a long time, men dying where they stood because of sheer determination.

At last Masinissa and Laelius, wheeling back from their pursuit of the cavalry, arrived at exactly the right moment.

When they fell on Hannibal's troops from the rear, most of the Carthaginians were cut down in their ranks, and of those who turned to flee only a few escaped entirely, since the cavalry were upon them and the ground was flat.

More than fifteen hundred Romans fell, while over twenty thousand Carthaginians were killed, and not many fewer were taken prisoner.

Chapter 15 Hannibal Did All He Could

Such was the outcome of the battle that decided everything and, under the commanders already mentioned, assigned empire to the Romans.

After the battle Scipio followed up the pursuit, plundered the Carthaginian camp, and then returned again to his own.

Hannibal, meanwhile, withdrew continuously with a few horsemen and reached Hadrumetum safely, having done in the battle everything possible that a good general, and one with experience in many great affairs, ought to do.

First of all, by entering into conference he tried to settle the crisis by negotiation.

That is what one does who understands success, yet does not trust Fortune, and who foresees the unexpected turns to which battles may come.

Then, when he had accepted battle, he handled matters in such a way that, no one using comparable equipment could have arranged a better engagement against the Romans than the one Hannibal then arranged.

For since the Roman formation is hard to break, and since in general and in detail a Roman force can fight in every direction out of a single deployment, with the nearest standards always wheeling to the point of danger, and since their equipment gives both protection and confidence, by reason of the great shield and the sword's power to endure heavy blows, they are for these reasons difficult opponents and hard to master.

Chapter 16 Hannibal's Tactics Sound

Yet despite all this, Hannibal adapted himself to each of these difficulties as well as circumstances allowed, leaving nothing better to be desired.

His numerous elephants he collected and threw forward for the express purpose of throwing the enemy lines into confusion and breaking their order.

He placed the mercenaries in front and the Carthaginians behind them so that the enemy's bodies might first be worn down by exertion, the edge of their weapons dulled by the number of men they killed, and the Carthaginians, standing in the middle, compelled to remain and fight, as the poet says, "even the unwilling man must battle under necessity."

The most warlike and steadfast of his troops he posted at a distance, so that, seeing what happened from afar and preserving their bodies and spirits fresh, they might employ their courage at the proper moment.

And if, after doing everything possible to win, a man previously undefeated still failed, he deserves pardon.

For sometimes chance itself thwarts the designs of brave men, and sometimes, as the proverb says, a good man meets another stronger than himself. One might well say that this is what happened to Hannibal then.

Chapter 17 Scipio Unmoved by Carthaginian Laments

Displays of emotion that go beyond what is customary among a people, when they appear to spring genuinely from overwhelming disaster, call forth pity in those who see and hear them; the strangeness of the spectacle moves us all in some degree.

But when such behavior seems adopted theatrically and for effect, it produces not pity but anger and disgust. That was what happened in the case of the Carthaginian envoys.

Scipio began briefly by saying that for their own sake the Romans owed them no kindness at all, since they themselves admitted that they had first brought war upon Rome by enslaving Saguntum in violation of treaty, and had only lately broken sworn oaths and written agreements once again.

Any mildness now shown them, he said, was for the Romans' own sake, out of regard for Fortune and for the human condition, and because they had decided to behave with magnanimity.

And this, he said, would become clear to the envoys too if they judged the present position rightly. They ought not to count it terrible if they were ordered to suffer, to do, or to surrender certain things; rather, they should regard it as remarkable if any act of humanity at all were granted them, since Fortune, by reason of their own injustice, had taken away any claim they had to pity or indulgence and had made them subject to their enemies.

After saying this, he set out what leniencies were being granted and, in turn, what penalties they would have to endure.

Chapter 18 Terms Made After the Battle of Zama

These were the main points of the proposals. The Carthaginians were to keep the cities in Libya that they had possessed before making war on Rome, as well as the land they had formerly held, together with their livestock, slaves, and other property.

From that day onward the Carthaginians were to remain free from molestation, to use their own customs and laws, and to live without a garrison.

These were the favorable terms. The opposite clauses were that the Carthaginians were to make full restitution to the Romans for all injuries committed during the armistice, to return all prisoners and deserters from every past period, and to hand over all warships except ten triremes, along with all their elephants.

They were to wage war on no people outside Libya at all, and on none within Libya without Roman consent.

They were to restore to King Masinissa every house, tract of land, city, and whatever else had belonged either to him or to his ancestors within the boundaries that would be assigned to him.

They were to furnish the Roman army with provisions for three months and to pay it until a reply came from Rome regarding the treaty.

The Carthaginians were to pay ten thousand talents of silver in fifty years, paying two hundred Euboic talents each year.

And as security for good faith they were to give one hundred hostages selected by the Roman general from among the young men, none younger than fourteen and none older than thirty.

Chapter 19 Hannibal Persuades Carthage to Accept These Terms

Such was what the Roman commander said to the envoys. After hearing it, they hurried home and explained everything to those in Carthage.

At that point, it is said, when one of the senators was about to speak against accepting the terms and had just begun, Hannibal stepped forward and pulled the man down from the platform.

When the rest were angered because he had done something contrary to established custom, Hannibal rose again and said that he admitted he did not understand such usages, but they ought to excuse him if he acted against their habits, since he had left his country when he was only nine years old and was now returning to it at more than forty-five years of age.

Therefore, he said, they should not focus on whether he had failed in matters of custom, but far more on whether he truly felt for the condition of his fatherland. That, he said, was what had driven him into this breach of decorum.

For it seemed to him astonishing, indeed utterly irrational, if any man who was a Carthaginian and knew what policies they had pursued against Rome, both collectively for the city and individually for themselves, did not now bow before Fortune in gratitude when, having become subject to Rome, they were receiving such mild terms.

Only a few days before, if anyone had asked what they expected their country to suffer if the Romans prevailed, none of them could even have answered, so great and excessive were the evils that seemed likely to come upon them.

So now, he said, they should not even bring the matter into debate, but unanimously accept the proposed terms, offer sacrifice to the gods, and pray with one voice that the Roman people would confirm them.

Since he was seen to be advising wisely and in a way suited to the crisis, it was decided to make peace on the stated terms.

The council immediately sent envoys to agree formally to them.

Chapter 20 League Against Ptolemy Epiphanes

Who would not marvel at this: while Ptolemy himself was alive and did not need their help, these kings were ready to assist him, but when he died and left behind a mere infant, whose kingdom both of them were naturally bound to preserve, then they invited one another to divide the child's dominion between themselves and remove the heir he had left.

And they did not, as even tyrants do, put forward some small pretext to veil their shame; rather they acted openly and brutally, in a way so savage that it calls to mind the life attributed to fish, among whom the destruction of the smaller becomes food and sustenance for the larger, though they are of the same kind.

Who, looking into this treaty as into a mirror, would not think himself an eyewitness of these kings' impiety toward the gods, their cruelty toward human beings, and their excessive greed?

And yet who would not reasonably cease blaming Fortune for the conduct of human affairs in this case, seeing that she afterward inflicted on them the punishment they deserved and offered to later generations the finest example of correction in the chastisement of those kings?

For while they were breaking faith with each other and carving up the child's kingdom, Fortune brought the Romans upon them, and what those men had unlawfully planned against their neighbor she justly and fittingly brought about against them.

For both of them were soon defeated in war and not only prevented from seizing what belonged to another, but were themselves shut in under tribute and made to do Rome's bidding.

In the end, within a very short time, Fortune restored Ptolemy's kingdom, while the dynasties and successors of those two monarchs she either utterly overthrew and destroyed or else involved in almost the same disasters.

Chapter 21 Molpagoras of Cius

There was at Cius a man named Molpagoras, capable both in speech and in action, but in his political character a demagogue and a greedy schemer.

By flattering the crowd, handing over the prosperous citizens to the mob, putting some to death outright, driving others into exile, confiscating their property, and distributing it among the multitude, he quickly won for himself a kind of monarchic power.

So the people of Cius fell into disasters of this size not so much because of Fortune or the injustice of their neighbors as, for the greater part, because of their own folly and bad government.

For they were always promoting the worst men and punishing those who opposed them, so that they might divide one another's property.

In this way they almost volunteered for their own ruin. Somehow all human beings plainly fall into such disasters and yet cannot stop being foolish, nor even learn the least measure of caution, unlike some irrational animals.

For if those creatures have once been harmed by bait or trap, or even see another in danger from one, you will not easily lure them again into anything of the same sort; they grow suspicious of the place itself and mistrust everything they see.

Human beings, by contrast, though they hear of cities utterly ruined by this policy and even see others suffering the same fate before their eyes, still rush mindlessly toward the bait whenever someone, with flattering words, sets before them the hope of repairing their own fortunes at the expense of others.

And they do so even though they know perfectly well that no one who swallows such bait has ever been saved, and that governments of this kind have universally brought destruction on all who adopted them.

Chapter 22 Philip Rouses the Enmity of the Greeks

When Philip had gained possession of the city, he was overjoyed, as if he had accomplished some noble and splendid deed, having zealously aided his brother-in-law, overawed all who resisted him, and gained an abundance of bodies and money by what he imagined was just warfare.

But he failed to see the opposite side of the matter, though it was plain enough: first, that he was helping his brother-in-law not when wronged, but when that man was treacherously attacking his neighbors in violation of faith; second, that by unjustly surrounding a Greek city with the greatest

misfortunes he was bound to confirm the reputation already spread abroad concerning his cruelty toward his friends, and by both actions would justly inherit throughout Greece a name for impiety; third, that he had insulted the envoys from the cities already mentioned, who had come to rescue the people of Cius from the dangers around them, but after being put off and mocked by him day after day were forced to witness with their own eyes what they most wished not to see; and beyond all this, that he had made the Rhodians so savage in their anger against him that they would no longer listen to a word in his favor.

Chapter 23 The Rhodians Object to Philip's Treatment of Cius

For indeed, in this respect Fortune plainly cooperated with Philip.

For while his ambassador was making his defense before the Rhodians in the theater, proclaiming Philip's greatness of spirit and saying that, though he was in effect already master of Cius, he was granting this favor to the Rhodian people because he wished to refute the slanders of his opponents and make his own intentions clear to the city, at that very moment a man who had just landed came to the prytaneum announcing the enslavement of the people of Cius and the cruelty Philip had shown in the affair.

So while the ambassador was still speaking, and the prytanis came forward and reported the news, the Rhodians could not believe it because the faithlessness was so extreme.

Thus Philip had betrayed not so much the people of Cius as himself, and had fallen into such ignorance —or rather such transgression—of what was fitting that he boasted and gloried in deeds for which he ought to have felt the deepest shame.

From that day onward the Rhodian people regarded Philip as an enemy and made their preparations accordingly.

By this same action he aroused similar hatred against himself among the Aetolians.

For he had only recently made peace with them and offered them the hand of friendship. No pretext for a breach had arisen; and the Aetolians, the people of Lysimachia, the Chalcedonians, and the people of Cius had all been friends and allies. Yet shortly before this he had first detached Lysimachia from the Aetolian alliance and brought it over to himself, then treated Chalcedon in the same way, and finally enslaved the people of Cius, even though an Aetolian officer was residing there and directing public affairs.

Prusias, because his design had been accomplished, was delighted on the one hand; but because another man carried off the real prize while he himself inherited only the bare, desolate site of a city, he was displeased and yet able to do nothing.

Chapter 24 Philip at Thasos

Philip, on his voyage back, committed one breach of faith after another, and among them he put in at midday to the city of the Thasians and enslaved it, though it was friendly to him.

The Thasians told Metrodorus, Philip's general, that they would surrender the city if he would preserve them free from garrison, tribute, and quartering of troops, and allow them to use their own laws.

The king, he said, agreed that the Thasians should remain free from garrison, free from tribute, free from billeting, and should use their own laws. When everyone signaled approval of these terms with a loud shout, they admitted Philip into the city.

Perhaps all kings, at the beginning of their reigns, set the name of liberty before everyone and call those who share their hopes friends and allies; but once they come to real action, they immediately treat those who trusted them not like allies but like subjects.

So such people are deceived in the honorable position they expected, though they generally do not miss the immediate advantage they sought.

But when a king is attempting the greatest enterprises, embracing the whole inhabited world in his ambitions, and still has all his hopes intact, how can it seem anything but irrational and mad to proclaim his own faithlessness and instability at the very first and smallest opportunities that present themselves?

Chapter 24a Egypt

Since in each year we recount the events that happened in the various parts of the inhabited world in their proper sequence, it is plain that in some cases the end must be presented before the beginning, whenever that section first falls into place in the division of the whole work and, in the progress of the narrative, the event containing the conclusion naturally comes before the one containing the beginning and first design.

Chapter 25 Ptolemy Epiphanes Succeeds To the Crown

Sosibius, the false guardian of Ptolemy, had the reputation of being a shrewd and long-enduring instrument of evil at court.

He had first arranged the murder of Lysimachus, son of Arsinoe daughter of Lysimachus and Ptolemy; next that of Magas, son of Ptolemy and Berenice daughter of Magas; third, that of Berenice, mother of Ptolemy Philopator; fourth, that of Cleomenes the Spartan; and fifth, that of Arsinoe daughter of Berenice.

Three or four days later, after building a platform in the largest colonnaded court of the palace, Agathocles and Sosibius summoned the bodyguards and household attendants, together with the officers of infantry and cavalry.

When they had assembled, Agathocles and Sosibius mounted the platform, announced the deaths of the king and queen, and proclaimed the customary mourning to the crowd.

After this they placed the diadem on the child's head and proclaimed him king, and then read out a forged will in which the dead king had supposedly left Agathocles and Sosibius as guardians of the boy.

They urged the officers to support the child and preserve his rule. Then they brought in two silver urns, pretending that one contained the king's bones and the other those of Arsinoe.

In reality one did contain the king's remains, but the other was filled with spices. After these arrangements they at once proceeded with the funeral. At that moment the truth about Arsinoe became plain to everyone.

For once her death was established, people began to inquire into the manner of it. Since no other explanation was available, and the true rumor had already spread though still disputed, what had really happened now fixed itself in every mind. So a great disturbance arose among the crowd.

No one paid any attention to the king, but with regard to Arsinoe some recalled her orphaned condition, others the outrage and humiliation she had suffered throughout her life, and when to these was added the misfortune of her death, the city was filled with groaning, tears, and unceasing lamentation.

Yet to those who judged rightly, these things were less signs of affection for Arsinoe than of hatred toward Agathocles and his circle.

When Agathocles had placed the urns in the royal burial chambers and ordered mourning clothes laid aside, his first move was to issue the troops two months' pay, convinced that the hatred of the masses could be dulled by appealing to their advantage. He next administered the customary oath taken at the proclamation of kings.

He also sent away Philammon, who had overseen the murder of Arsinoe, making him governor of the Libyan districts around Cyrene, and he placed the child in the hands of Oenanthe and Agathocleia.

After this he sent Pelops son of Pelops to Asia, to Antiochus the king, to urge him to preserve the friendship and not violate the treaty made with the child's father; and he sent Ptolemy son of Sosibius to Philip both to settle the matter of an intermarriage alliance and to ask for help if Antiochus should attempt any more open breach of faith.

He also appointed Ptolemy son of Agesarchus as envoy to the Romans, not because he meant him to press the embassy in earnest, but so that, once he reached Greece and met friends and relatives there, he would stay away.

For his aim was to remove all prominent men from his path.

He also sent Scopas the Aetolian to Greece to recruit mercenaries, providing a large sum of gold for the advance payments.

He had two purposes in this. One was to use the men thus recruited in the war against Antiochus. The other was to send the existing mercenaries out to country forts and settlements, and by means of the newcomers refill and remake the household regiments, the palace guards, and likewise the rest of the city watch.

He thought that troops recruited and paid by himself would feel no sympathy with what had happened before, because they knew nothing of it, and that, having all their hopes both of safety and advancement resting in him, they would be ready assistants and collaborators in whatever he ordered.

All this happened before the deliberation at Philip's court [...], as I have said; but since those matters had to be taken first in the order of the narrative, it was necessary to handle these events in this way, by first describing the audiences, the diplomatic dealings, and the dispatch of the ambassadors.

Agathocles, then, once he had removed the most distinguished men and to a great extent checked the anger of the crowd by distributing pay, promptly returned to his former habits. He filled the places of his friends by drawing from the attendants and other servants the most worthless and shameless men.

He himself spent most of day and night in drunkenness and the excesses that follow it, sparing neither mature women nor brides nor unmarried girls, and he did all this with the most offensive display.

So there was widespread and manifold resentment; yet no relief or help appeared, and instead outrage, arrogance, and carelessness were continually added to the burden.

Thus the old hatred among the people flared up again, and everyone renewed in memory the misfortunes that had already befallen the kingdom through these very people.

But since they had no respectable figure to stand in front and on whom they might lean while pressing their anger against Agathocles and Agathocleia, they stayed quiet, watching for one remaining hope in Tlepolemus and fixing their attention on him.

As long as the king lived, Tlepolemus attended to his own affairs. But when the king died, he quickly won over the troops and once more became commander in the region of Pelusium.

At first he reported what was being done in the interest of the king, believing that there would be some governing council to hold the guardianship of the child and oversight of the whole state.

But when he saw that the men fit to serve as guardians had been removed and that Agathocles was boldly seizing control of everything, he quickly changed his purpose. Fearing the danger that threatened him because of the enmity between them, he gathered troops around himself and sought money, so that he might not lie easy to the hand of any enemy.

At the same time he did not despair of gaining the guardianship of the child and the chief direction of affairs for himself, thinking that by his own judgment he was far more worthy than Agathocles in every respect, and hearing besides that both the troops under his command and those in Alexandria placed their hopes in him as the man who would put down Agathocles' insolence.

With dispositions such as these on his side, the quarrel soon grew, since both factions helped to inflame it.

For Tlepolemus, eager to win over the generals, the taxiarchs, and the officers under them, carefully arranged drinking parties; and at these gatherings, partly from the flattery of his companions and partly from his own impulse—since he was young and the conversation was carried on over wine—he cast jibes at the family of Agathocles, at first riddling and obscure, then ambiguous, and at last open and filled with the bitterest abuse.

He mocked the writer of lampoons, the sambuca-girl, the lady's maid, and that little page who had done and suffered everything at drinking parties when as a boy he poured wine for the king.

And because those present were always laughing and adding something to the mockery, the matter quickly reached Agathocles and his circle.

Once the hostility had become open, Agathocles at once began circulating slanders against Tlepolemus, claiming that he was alienating himself from the king and inviting Antiochus to seize control of affairs.

He found many plausible arguments for this, twisting some from actual events and inventing and dressing up others from the beginning.

He did this because he wished to provoke the crowd against Tlepolemus. But the result was the opposite. For since the people had long fixed their hopes on Tlepolemus, they were delighted to see the quarrel growing hot.

The beginning of the popular movement, however, arose from certain such causes as these. Nicon, a kinsman of Agathocles, had while the king was still alive been placed in command of the fleet [...]

Chapter 26 Another Murder Committed by Agathocles

Agathocles first assembled the Macedonians, and before them he entered with the king and Agathocleia.

At first he acted the part of a man unable to say what he wished because of the flood of tears that overcame him.

But after repeatedly wiping his face with his cloak and mastering the display, he lifted up the child and said, "Take this boy, whom his father, when dying, placed in this woman's arms"—pointing to his sister —"and entrusted, Macedonians, to your keeping.

Her goodwill contributes only a slight advantage toward his safety; but his whole situation now lies with you and in your hands.

For Tlepolemus has long been clearly seen, by those who observe matters rightly, to aim at greater things than suit his station, and now he has fixed the very day and moment on which he means to take up the diadem.

Do not trust me about this," he said, "but men who know the truth and are now present from the facts themselves."

With that he brought in Critolaus, who declared that he had personally seen altars being prepared and sacrificial victims made ready among the populace for the proclamation of the diadem.

But when the Macedonians heard this, far from pitying him, they simply paid no attention to what he said. Muttering and whispering among themselves, they made such a confused uproar that Agathocles himself did not even understand how the assembly came to an end.

The same thing happened in his addresses to the other groups as well.

Meanwhile many people were sailing down from the upper camps, and some urged their kinsmen, others their friends, to help in the present crisis and not stand by while they were openly outraged by men so unworthy.

What especially stirred the masses to punish those in power was the knowledge that delay told against themselves, because Tlepolemus and his party controlled all the supplies being brought into Alexandria.

Chapter 26a Agathocles Kills Deinon

Agathocles also killed Deinon son of Deinon, and this deed, as the proverb says, was the most just of all his injustices.

For when the letters concerning the murder of Arsinoe came into his hands, he had the chance to reveal the plot and save the kingdom, but instead he cooperated with Philammon and so became responsible for all the evils that followed. Later, after the murder had been carried out, he kept recalling it, lamenting to many people and regretting that he had let such a moment pass; and when this became known to Agathocles, he at once met the punishment that suited him and lost his life.

Chapter 27 Growing Hatred of Agathocles

Something done by Agathocles and his own circle also helped to intensify the anger both of the people and of Tlepolemus.

They seized Danae, the mother-in-law of Tlepolemus, from the temple of Demeter, dragged her unveiled through the middle of the city, and threw her into prison, wishing to make their quarrel with Tlepolemus unmistakably public.

The populace, outraged by this, no longer kept their talk private or confined to secret circles. Some by night wrote on the walls in every quarter, while others by day gathered in groups and openly expressed their hatred toward those in power.

Agathocles and his circle, seeing what was happening and holding sinister expectations about their own future, sometimes planned flight; but because nothing had been prepared for that course, thanks to their own incompetence, they abandoned the idea.

At other times they drew up lists of conspirators and partners for a daring stroke, intending at once to cut down some enemies, arrest others, and after that seize tyrannical power.

While they were considering these plans, a report reached them against a certain Moeragenes, one of the bodyguards, that he was revealing everything to Tlepolemus and cooperating with him because of his connection with Adaeus, then commander at Bubastus.

Agathocles immediately ordered Nicostratus, the secretary in charge of correspondence, to arrest Moeragenes and examine him thoroughly, putting every form of torture before him.

So Moeragenes was at once arrested by Nicostratus and taken to a secluded part of the palace, where he was first questioned directly about the charges.

When he admitted nothing, he was stripped, and some were making ready the instruments of torture while others, with whips in hand, were taking off their cloaks.

At just that moment one of the attendants ran up to Nicostratus, whispered something in his ear, and hurried away again. Nicostratus followed close behind him, saying nothing but repeatedly slapping his thigh as he went.

Chapter 28 Moeragenes Escapes

What happened to Moeragenes then was astonishing and beyond belief.

The floggers were standing there all but ready to bring down their whips, while others at his feet were preparing the instruments of compulsion.

But once Nicostratus had gone away, they all stood gaping and staring at one another, constantly expecting the man to come back.

As time passed, those standing by gradually slipped away one by one, until Moeragenes was left alone. Then, passing through the palace, he unexpectedly escaped naked into a tent of the Macedonians near the court.

Finding them by chance at breakfast and gathered together, he told them what had happened to him and the strange way he had been saved.

At first they doubted him, but when they saw him naked they were forced to believe.

Taking advantage of this reversal, Moeragenes begged the Macedonians with tears to secure not only his own safety, but also that of the king and, above all, their own.

For, he said, destruction was plain to all unless they seized the moment when the hatred of the crowd was at its height and everyone stood ready to punish Agathocles.

And that moment, he said, was now in full strength.

Chapter 29 A Revolt Decided Upon By the Army

Moeragenes said that it needed only someone to take the lead. When the Macedonians heard this, they were stirred to anger, and in the end they were persuaded by him. They immediately went first to the Macedonian tents and then to those of the other soldiers.

All these camps lay together, facing one side of the city.

Since the impulse had long been ready in the minds of the crowd and needed only someone to call it forth and dare the first move, the affair, once begun, blazed up like fire.

For before four hours had passed, every class, military and civilian alike, had agreed on the attack.

And at this crisis chance too contributed greatly toward the outcome.

For Agathocles received both a letter and the report of spies: the letter, written by Tlepolemus to the troops, declared that he would arrive soon, and the spies reported that he was already there.

This drove Agathocles so completely out of his senses that he gave up both action and even deliberation about the danger confronting him, but at his usual hour went off to drinking and there carried through the gathering in his customary fashion.

His mother Oenanthe, in deep distress, went to the Thesmophorium, the sanctuary being open because of an annual sacrifice.

At first she knelt and made magical appeals to the goddesses; then she sat down by the altar and kept still.

Most of the women, enjoying the sight of her distress and misery, kept silent. But some female relatives of Polycrates and certain other noblewomen, still unaware of the full crisis, approached and tried to comfort her.

She cried out in a loud voice, “Do not come near me, you beasts! I know you well: your hearts are against us, and you pray to the goddesses for the worst things against us.

But I still trust that, if the gods will it, you shall taste your own children yet.”

After saying this she ordered the women carrying rods to drive them off and beat any who refused to obey.

Taking this as their excuse, all the women withdrew, lifting up their hands to the gods and praying that she herself might experience those very things she was threatening to inflict on others.

Chapter 30 A Mob Assembles

By now the men had decided on revolution, and when in every household the anger of the women was added to the general resentment, the hatred flared up doubly.

As soon as night came on, the whole city was full of noise, lights, and people running about.

Some were gathering in the stadium with shouting, some were calling one another to join them, and some were darting about and hiding in unsuspected houses and places.

Already the open spaces around the palace, the stadium, the broad street, and the area by the Dionysian theater were full of every sort of crowd.

When Agathocles learned what was happening, he roused himself out of drunkenness—he had only just dismissed his drinking party—and taking with him all his relatives except Philo, he went to the king.

After briefly lamenting his own misfortune to the boy and taking him by the hand, he went up into the covered passage that lay between the Maeander and the wrestling-school and led to the entrance of the theater.

After securing the first two doors, he retreated to the third with two or three bodyguards, the king, and his own family.

These doors were made of lattice-work so that one could see through them, though they were fastened with double bars.

By this time the crowd had assembled from the whole city, so that not only the open ground but even the steps and rooftops were packed with people, and there arose a mixed uproar of shouting and cries, since women and children were mingled with the men.

For in disturbances of this kind, both in Carthage and in Alexandria, the children play no smaller a part than the men.

Chapter 31 The King Surrendered To the Soldiers

As day was already beginning to show, the shouting was still confused, but one demand stood out clearly from it: they were calling for the king.

The Macedonians were the first to act. Rising up, they seized the gatehouse used for public business in the royal palace.

A little later, when they discovered where in the court the king was, they went round to the passage, forced open the first doors, and when they came to the second demanded the child with loud cries.

Agathocles and his party, seeing now how matters stood for them, begged the bodyguards to go as envoys on their behalf to the Macedonians and declare that they resigned the guardianship, all other authority and honors, and even all their revenues.

They asked only that life itself be granted them, together with the bare necessities of food, so that by returning to their original station they might be incapable of harming anyone in future, even if they wished to.

None of the bodyguards obeyed except Aristomenes, the very man who after some time came to hold chief power in the state.

This man was an Acarnanian, and when later in life he gained control of affairs, he seemed to have governed both king and kingdom in the noblest and most honorable way; but to the same degree he had earlier flattered Agathocles in the days of his prosperity.

For he was the first, when Agathocles dined at his house, to present him alone among the guests with a golden crown, an honor custom allowed only to kings themselves.

He was also the first who dared to wear Agathocles' likeness on his ring; and when a daughter was born to him, he named her Agathocleia.

But enough of that. After receiving these instructions, Aristomenes went out through a small wicket and came to the Macedonians.

He spoke briefly and explained Agathocles' intention. At first the Macedonians wanted to stab him on the spot, but some held up their hands over him and begged the crowd to spare him, and so he returned with the order that either he must come back bringing the king with him or else not come out again himself.

Having sent Aristomenes back with these words, the Macedonians came up to the second doors and forced them open as well.

When Agathocles and his party saw from the Macedonians' actions as much as from their answer how violent they were, they first stretched out their hands through the door, while Agathocleia thrust out the breasts which, she said, had nursed the king, and with every sort of pleading begged the Macedonians to grant them bare life.

Chapter 32 The King Conducted to the Stadium

But when, for all their many lamentations over their own fate, they accomplished nothing, at last they sent out the child with the bodyguards.

The Macedonians took the king, quickly set him on horseback, and led him to the stadium.

As soon as he appeared, there arose a great shout and clapping. They stopped the horse, lifted the boy down, led him forward, and seated him in the royal place.

Among the crowd there was at once both joy and grief: they were delighted that the child had been brought, but displeased that the guilty parties had not been arrested and made to suffer the punishment they deserved.

So they kept shouting continuously, demanding that the authors of all the evils be brought out and made an example.

As the day wore on and the crowd found no one on whom it could vent its rage, Sosibius—the son of Sosibius, and at that time one of the bodyguards, a man especially attentive to the king and the state—seeing both that the people's fury was unchangeable and that the child was suffering from the unfamiliar faces around him and from the uproar of the crowd, asked the king whether he would hand over to the people those who had wronged him or his mother.

When the boy nodded, Sosibius told some of the bodyguards to announce the king's decision, while he himself lifted the child up and took him to his own nearby house to be cared for.

As the king's command was announced, the whole place burst with clapping and shouting.

At that moment Agathocles and Agathocleia separated and withdrew to their respective lodgings.

Then some of the soldiers—some volunteering, others pushed on by the crowd—rushed off to search for them.

Chapter 33 The Massacre of Agathocles and Family

The beginning of bloodshed and slaughter came about by the following chance occurrence.

One of Agathocles' attendants and flatterers, a man named Philo, came staggering out into the stadium still drunk.

Seeing the rush of the crowd, he said to those standing by that, just as before, they would regret it again if Agathocles appeared.

Some of those who heard him abused him, others shoved him about, and when he tried to defend himself, some tore off his cloak while others thrust their spears into him and stabbed him.

As soon as he was dragged insultingly into the middle, still writhing, and the crowd had tasted blood, they all began eagerly waiting for the arrival of the others.

Not long after, Agathocles himself came first, led in bound. The moment he entered, some rushed at him and stabbed him on the spot—an act done more by friends than by enemies, since they spared him the punishment he truly deserved. After him came Nicon, then Agathocleia naked with her sisters, and after them all the rest of the family.

Last of all they dragged Oenanthe from the Thesmophorium into the stadium, bringing her in naked on horseback.

When they were all handed over to the crowd together, some bit them, some stabbed them, some gouged out their eyes, and whenever one fell, they tore the limbs apart, until they had mangled every one of them.

For there is something terrible in the savagery of the people of Egypt when their passions are stirred.

At that same time certain girls who had grown up with Arsinoe learned that Philammon, the man who had supervised the queen's murder, had arrived three days earlier from Cyrene, and so they rushed to his house.

Forcing their way in, they beat Philammon to death with stones and clubs, strangled his little son, and then dragged Philammon's wife naked into the street and killed her too.

Such was the end of Agathocles, Agathocleia, and their relatives.

Chapter 34 Why Agathocles Died As He Did

I am not unaware of the marvels and embellishments with which some writers have treated these events in order to astonish their hearers, giving more attention to ornamental comment than to the facts themselves and what truly matters in them.

Some refer everything to Fortune and place before the eyes the uncertainty and slipperiness of her workings; others dwell on the unexpectedness of what happened and try to supply the events with causes and probabilities.

But I did not intend to handle the matter in that way, because Agathocles was neither distinguished for military daring and power, nor successful and admirable in administration, nor finally remarkable for courtly cleverness and villainous intrigue—the sort of ability by which Sosibius and many others managed to survive under one king after another. In Agathocles' case the opposite of all this was true.

For he had indeed gained an astonishing advancement because of Philopator's incapacity to rule.

But after gaining that position, and after receiving the most favorable opportunity to preserve his power following the king's death, he lost both his authority and his life through his own cowardice and indolence, being condemned in a very short time.

Chapter 35 Agathocles Not a Good Example of Mutability of Fortune

Therefore one ought not to attach an elaborate moralizing discourse to men of this kind, as I said, in the way one might with Agathocles and Dionysius of Sicily and certain other men whose public careers won a real name.

For one of those men began from a common and humble station, and Agathocles—as Timaeus says mockingly—was a potter who left wheel, clay, and smoke behind and came as a young man to Syracuse.

At first, in their own generations, both became tyrants of Syracuse, a city that at that time had attained the highest distinction and greatest wealth.

Afterward they were thought sovereigns of all Sicily and masters of certain parts of Italy as well.

Agathocles even made an expedition against Libya and at last died still in possession of those high fortunes.

That is why they say that Publius Scipio, the first conqueror of the Carthaginians, when asked whom he considered the most practical men of affairs and the boldest with sound judgment, answered: the Sicilians Agathocles and Dionysius.

With men like those, it is fitting to draw readers to attention, perhaps also to speak of Fortune and of human affairs, and to add an instructive reflection. But with the men we have been discussing, that is wholly out of place.

Chapter 36 Agathocles Was Not An Important Person

For these reasons we have rejected any expanded treatment of Agathocles.

And not least because all startling reversals have a single force at first encounter that is worth notice, but afterward the hearing and sight of them become not only useless but positively wearisome.

For those who present anything to ear or eye ought to aim at two ends, benefit and pleasure; and in history, where this obligation especially applies, excessive dwelling on shocking disasters misses both.

For who would wish to imitate extraordinary catastrophes? And again, no one enjoys continually seeing and hearing things that are unnatural and beyond common human expectation.

We are indeed eager once, and at first, to see or hear such things, in order to learn that what seemed impossible is actually possible.

But once we believe it, no one enjoys lingering over the unnatural, and no one would wish to encounter the same thing again and again.

So what is told ought to be either admirable or pleasant; but an excessive account of disasters beyond these belongs more properly to tragedy than to history.

Still, perhaps one should pardon those who do not attend either to nature or to the general course of events throughout the inhabited world.

For they suppose that the greatest and most astonishing events in history are precisely those they themselves happen to meet with or hear about from others, and so they fix all their attention on these.

Accordingly they do not notice that they are spending too much speech on things that are neither novel, since others have already recounted them, nor able to give either profit or pleasure. But let this be enough on that point.

Chapter 37 Antiochus

King Antiochus at the beginning of his reign seemed a man of vast designs, boldness, and energetic execution.

But as he advanced in age he proved far inferior both to his earlier self and to the expectation others had formed of him.

Book XVI

The naval battle off Chios between Philip V of Macedon and the allied fleets of Rhodes and Pergamum (201 BC). Book XVI, 2–7.

Chapter 1 Philip V. Wages War with Attalus, King of Pergamum, and the Rhodians.

When King Philip reached Pergamum and thought he had, as good as with his own hands, finished off Attalus, he gave free rein to every kind of outrage.

In indulging a temper almost like madness, he directed most of his anger not against men but against the gods.

For the defenders of Pergamum easily beat back his assaults because the place was so strong, and Attalus had taken such careful precautions that Philip could get no profit from ravaging the countryside.

So he turned his rage against the seats and sanctuaries of the gods, insulting, as it seems to me, not Attalus so much as himself.

He did not merely burn and pull down temples and altars. He even smashed the stones so that nothing he had destroyed could ever be rebuilt.

After he had laid waste the Nicephorium, cutting down its grove, throwing down its enclosing wall, and digging up from the foundations many large and costly shrines, he first moved against Thyatira, and from there marched into the plain of Thebe, thinking that this district would provide him with especially rich plunder.

But when this hope also failed, he came to the place called the Holy Village and kept sending to Zeuxis, asking him to provide grain and the other support required by their treaty.

Zeuxis pretended that he was carrying out the treaty, but in reality he had no wish to give Philip any real and substantial help.

Chapter 2 The Sea Battle off Chios

Since the siege was going badly for him, and the enemy were pressing him hard with a growing number of decked ships, Philip was at a loss and deeply uneasy about what was to come.

As the situation allowed no real choice, he put to sea unexpectedly, contrary to the enemy's expectation.

For Attalus and his side still thought he would remain where he was and continue the mining works.

Philip was especially eager to make his departure sudden, convinced that he would get the start of them and then sail the rest of the way safely along the coast to Samos.

But he was badly mistaken in his calculations. As soon as Attalus and Theophiliscus saw him putting out, they at once took action.

Their own departure was somewhat disordered, because, as I said, they had been convinced that Philip was staying where he was.

Even so, by rowing with great energy they attacked, Attalus striking the enemy's right wing and van, while Theophiliscus attacked the left.

Philip, caught in these dangerous circumstances, gave the signal to the ships on his right, ordered them to turn their prows toward the enemy and fight hard at close quarters, while he himself withdrew under the little islands that lay in the channel, taking some light craft with him and watching how the battle would turn out.

The ships engaged on Philip's side were fifty-three decked vessels, besides [...] undecked ships, and a hundred and fifty light boats and cutters, since he had not been able to equip all the ships at Samos.

The enemy had sixty-five decked ships, including those from Byzantium, together with nine triemioliai and three triremes.

Chapter 3 Incidents of the Sea-Fight

The fighting began from the ship on which Attalus sailed, and at once all the nearby ships engaged each other without waiting for orders.

Attalus ran into an enemy eight-banked ship and struck it a well-placed blow below the waterline. After a long struggle among the men on deck, he finally sank it.

Philip's ten-banked flagship, however, fell into the enemy's hands in a most unexpected way.

A triemiolia slipped in beneath it and crashed violently into its hull amidships, below the upper bank of oars, where it became jammed fast. The helmsman could no longer recover control of the larger ship.

Because that smaller craft hung attached to it, the flagship became unwieldy and slow in every movement. At that moment two quinqueremes came up, struck it on both sides, and destroyed both the vessel and the marines on board, among them Democrates, Philip's admiral.

At the same time Dionysodorus and Deinocrates, brothers who served as admirals under Attalus, charged enemy ships, the one a seven-banker and the other an eight-banker, and fought with remarkable daring.

Deinocrates, colliding with an eight-banked ship, received a blow above the waterline because his own ship had a high-built prow, but he struck the enemy ship under the [...]. At first he could not break free, though he repeatedly tried to back away.

So, while the Macedonians fought bravely from the enemy ship, he was brought into extreme danger.

But Attalus came to his aid and, by driving into the enemy vessel, broke the two ships apart. Deinocrates was unexpectedly freed, while all the marines on the enemy ship, after a gallant resistance, were killed, and their now-empty vessel fell into Attalus' hands.

Dionysodorus, on the other hand, made his attack with great force but missed the ramming blow. As he passed close by the enemy, he lost the whole right-side bank of oars, and the timbers that carried his towers were smashed together.

Once this happened, the enemy surrounded him on every side.

In the uproar and confusion that followed, all the rest of his marines were lost with the ship, but Dionysodorus himself, with only two others, managed to swim off to the triemiolia that was coming to help him.

Chapter 4 The Sea-Battle Undecided

The fight among the rest of the ships was evenly matched.

For by as much as Philip had the advantage in the number of his light craft, by so much Attalus had the advantage in the number of decked ships.

So on Philip's right wing matters stood in such a way that the final outcome was still uncertain, though Attalus had the better hopes.

As for the Rhodians, at first, just as I said before, they became separated from the enemy during the putting out to sea; but because they were far superior in speed, they caught up with the Macedonian ships in the rear.

At first they bore down on the withdrawing vessels from astern and crippled their oars.

But when Philip's ships began turning back to support those in danger, and the Rhodian ships that had started later joined Theophiliscus, then both sides formed line abreast, prow to prow, and charged gallantly, encouraging one another with trumpets and shouts.

If the Macedonians had not stationed their light boats among the decked ships, the sea-fight would quickly and easily have been decided. As it was, these became obstacles to the Rhodians in many ways.

For once the original order had been broken by the first collision, all the ships became mixed together.

As a result the Rhodians could neither break through the enemy line easily nor turn their ships freely nor use their own advantages at all, because the small craft kept running into their oars, hampering the rowing, or else striking their prows and sometimes their sterns, and so interfering alike with helmsmen and rowers.

Yet in direct prow-to-prow encounters they used a skilled maneuver.

By lowering their own prows they took the enemy's blows above the waterline, while they themselves struck the enemy below the waterline and made their damage hard to repair.

Still, they did this only rarely, because in general they avoided close entanglements, since the Macedonians fought bravely from the decks whenever the struggle came hand to hand.

Most often the Rhodians would row through the enemy formation and shear off their oars; then, wheeling around again, they would strike some from behind and others broadside while they were still turning, either holing them or disabling some essential part of their equipment.

By this method of fighting they destroyed a great number of the enemy ships.

Chapter 5 Attalus Barely Escapes Capture

The most brilliant and dangerous fighting was done by three Rhodian quinqueremes: the flagship on which Theophiliscus sailed, the ship commanded by Philostratus, and a third steered by Autolycus with Nicostratus aboard.

This last ship rammed an enemy vessel and left its own ram fixed in the hull. The enemy ship sank with all hands, but because sea water was pouring into Autolycus' ship through the prow, he and his men were surrounded by the enemy.

At first they fought bravely, but in the end Autolycus, wounded, fell overboard in his armor, and the rest of the marines died fighting stoutly.

At that moment Theophiliscus came to help with three quinqueremes. He could not save the ship, because it was already full of water, but after smashing two enemy vessels he drove their marines overboard.

Soon, however, he himself was swarmed by a larger number of light boats and decked ships, and he lost most of his marines after they had fought with conspicuous bravery.

He himself received three wounds and, after exposing himself to the utmost danger, only just saved his own ship, with Philostratus coming to his aid and nobly sharing the peril.

Once he had rejoined his own squadron, he attacked the enemy again from a fresh angle. Though his bodily strength was failing from his wounds, the courage in his spirit made him more brilliant and more formidable than before.

So there were really two sea-battles taking place far apart. Philip's right wing, in keeping with the original plan, kept edging toward land and was not far from Asia, while the left wing, having turned back to support the ships in the rear, was fighting the Rhodians not far from Chios.

Chapter 6 Attalus Abandons his Ship but Escapes

Even so, Attalus' side was decisively overpowering Philip's right wing and was already drawing near the little islands under which Philip had anchored to watch the battle.

Attalus then noticed one of his own quinqueremes disabled and sinking under attack from an enemy ship, and he rushed to help it with two quadriremes.

When the enemy ship turned and tried to escape toward land, Attalus pursued too eagerly, eager to capture it.

Philip saw that Attalus had become separated by a wide distance from his own fleet. He took four quinqueremes, three hemioliai, and the nearest light boats, dashed forward, cut Attalus off from his own ships, and forced him in great panic to run his vessels aground.

Once that happened, the king himself escaped with his crews to Erythrae, but Philip captured the ships and the royal equipment on board.

Yet Attalus' people showed ingenuity even in this crisis. They spread the finest pieces of the royal equipment out on the deck.

So when the first Macedonians came up in their light craft and saw quantities of cups, purple robes, and the like, they gave up the pursuit and turned aside to plunder these things.

That is how Attalus managed to make his retreat safely to Erythrae.

Philip, though badly worsted in the battle as a whole, was elated by what had happened to Attalus. He put to sea again, busily gathering his ships and encouraging his men, saying that they had won the battle.

People found this plausible because Philip's men were towing away the royal ship, and so many assumed that King Attalus himself had perished.

But Dionysodorus guessed what had happened to his king, raised the signal, gathered his own ships around him, and then sailed off safely to the harbors on the Asiatic coast.

At the same time the Macedonians who had been fighting the Rhodians, after suffering badly for a long time, gradually slipped out of danger by withdrawing in small groups under the pretense of hurrying to help their own ships.

The Rhodians towed off some captured ships, destroyed others with their rams, and then sailed away to Chios.

Chapter 7 Losses in the Battle

Philip lost, in the battle against Attalus, a ten-banked ship, a nine-banked ship, a seven-banked ship, a six-banked ship, ten other decked ships, three triemioliai, and twenty-five light boats, together with their crews.

In the battle against the Rhodians he lost ten decked ships and about forty light boats, while two quadriremes and seven light boats with their crews were captured.

On Attalus' side one triemiolia and two quinqueremes were sunk, while two quadriremes and the king's own ship were captured.

Of the Rhodian fleet, two quinqueremes and one trireme were destroyed, but none were taken.

Of the men, the Rhodians lost about sixty, Attalus about seventy, while Philip lost about three thousand Macedonians and six thousand sailors and marines.

About two thousand of Philip's Macedonians and allies were taken alive, while of their opponents about seven hundred were captured.

Chapter 8 Philip Vainly Claims the Victory At Chios

Such was the outcome of the naval battle off Chios.

Philip claimed the victory on two grounds: first, because he had forced Attalus ashore and had taken his ship; second, because after anchoring at the place called Argennum he seemed to have made his anchorage among the wrecks.

In keeping with this claim, on the next day he gathered up the wreckage and recovered for burial such of the dead as could still be recognized, all to strengthen that appearance.

But that he did not really believe he had won was soon proved by both the Rhodians and Dionysodorus.

For on the following day, while Philip was still occupied with these matters, they communicated with one another, sailed out against him, drew up their ships in line before him, and then, when no one put out to meet them, sailed back again to Chios.

Philip had never before lost so many men at one moment, either by land or by sea, and he took the event very hard. Much of his spirit for the enterprise was broken.

Still, toward the outside world he tried by every means to hide his discouragement, though the facts themselves would not allow it.

Quite apart from everything else, even what followed after the battle struck horror into all who saw it.

So many men had been destroyed that on the very day of the battle the whole strait was full of corpses, blood, weapons, and wreckage, and on the following days the beaches could be seen heaped together in confused masses with all these things mingled.

Because of this, not only Philip himself but all the Macedonians were thrown into no small shame and consternation.

Chapter 9 Death of Theophiliscus

Theophiliscus survived for one day. After writing home to his city about the sea-fight and appointing Cleonaeus to command the forces in his place, he died of his wounds.

He was a brave man in battle and, in the purpose that guided him, worthy of remembrance.

If he had not dared to be the first to lay hands on Philip, everyone else would have let the opportunity slip, intimidated by Philip's boldness.

But by beginning the war himself he forced his own country to rise with the occasion, and he compelled Attalus not to delay and merely make preparations, but to fight in earnest and face the danger.

So the Rhodians were right to honor him after his death with distinctions that encouraged not only those then alive but also future generations to meet the critical needs of their country.

Chapter 10 Philip's Abandoned Voyage to Alexandria

After the battle off Lade had been fought, with the Rhodians out of his way and Attalus not yet involved, it is plain that Philip could have completed his voyage to Alexandria. Nothing makes Philip's madness in this matter clearer than that.

What then checked the rush of his purpose?

Nothing but the natural course of events.

For people often pursue impossible aims when they view them from far off, because the greatness of their hopes overpowers their reason; but when they come close to the actual business, they abandon their plans just as irrationally, since their calculations are thrown into confusion by the difficulty and awkwardness of the obstacles they meet.

Compare Livy 31.14: "Jam cum Rhodiis et Attalo navalibus certaminibus, neutro feliciter, vires expertus."

Chapter 11 Philip's Operations in Caria, 201 BC

After this Philip made some attacks that came to nothing because the town was so strong, and then withdrew again, plundering the forts and settlements in the countryside.

From there he marched against Prinassus. He quickly prepared wicker screens and the rest of the siege equipment and began trying to take the city by mines.

When this attempt also proved useless, because the ground was rocky, he devised the following trick.

By day he had noises made underground, as if the miners were at work, and by night he had earth brought from outside and piled beside the mouths of the tunnels, so that the people in the city, judging from the amount of earth heaped up, might be frightened.

At first the people of Prinassus held out bravely. But then Philip sent and told them that he had already propped up a stretch of their wall two plethra long, and asked whether they preferred to withdraw safely or all perish together with their city when the props were set on fire. Believing what he said, they then surrendered the city.

Chapter 12 Description of Iassus

The city of Iassus lies in Asia, on the gulf between the Poseidium of the Milesians and the city of Myndus, a gulf called [...], but by most the Bargylian Gulf, after the cities built around its inner recess.

The Iassians claim that they were originally colonists from Argos, and later from Miletus, because after they had suffered losses in the Carian war their ancestors brought in a son of Neleus, founder of Miletus. The city is ten stades in circuit.

At Bargylia there is a famous and widely believed story that the image of Artemis Cindyas, though it stands in the open air, is never touched by snow or rain, and among the people of Iassus there is a similar story about Artemis Astias. Some historians have repeated such tales.

But I, for my part, somehow find myself, throughout my whole work, opposing and resenting such declarations by historians.

It seems to me that stories of this kind belong wholly to childish foolishness, since they go beyond not only what is probable but even what is possible.

To say that certain bodies cast no shadow when placed in the light shows a mind that has lost all sense. Yet Theopompus does this when he says that those who enter the forbidden sanctuary of Zeus in Arcadia become shadowless.

That is very much like the story told here.

When such tales help preserve the reverence of the common people toward the gods, one may grant some indulgence to historians who indulge in marvels and story-making about them.

But excess must not be permitted. It may be difficult to mark the exact measure in every case, but it is not impossible. So if such ignorance and false opinion stay within narrow bounds, let them be excused; but anything excessive should, in my judgment, be rejected.

Chapter 13 Affairs in Greece

I have already explained what policy Nabis, tyrant of the Lacedaemonians, adopted from the beginning, and how, after driving out the citizens, he freed the slaves and married them to their masters' wives and daughters.

I have also shown how he built up his power by making Sparta a kind of inviolable refuge for those who fled their own countries because of impiety or wickedness, and so gathered there a crowd of lawless men.

I will now explain how, at this same time, although he was the ally of the Aetolians, Eleans, and Messenians, and was bound by oath and treaty to help them if anyone attacked them, he disregarded all these pledges and attempted a treacherous attack on the city of the Messenians.

Chapter 14 Digression on the Merits of the Historians Zeno and Antisthenes of Rhodes

Polybius says that since some historians of particular episodes have written about this same period, in which the events at Messene and the sea-battles already mentioned took place, he wishes to discuss them briefly.

He will not speak of them all, but only of those whom he thinks worthy of remembrance and distinction, namely Zeno and Antisthenes of Rhodes.

I judge them worthy of notice for several reasons. They were contemporaries of the events, they had practical political experience, and in general they composed their histories not for profit but for reputation and from a sense of duty proper to public men.

Since they write about the same events that I do, I must not pass them over in silence, lest, because of the name of their country and the idea that naval matters especially belong to the Rhodians, readers eager to learn should follow them rather than me wherever I disagree with them.

Now to begin with, both of them describe the battle off Lade as no less serious than the battle off Chios, indeed as more active and more daring both in detail and in the overall conduct of the engagement, and they declare that the victory belonged to the Rhodians.

For my part, I could allow historians some inclination to favor their own countries, but not to make statements that are contrary to the facts.

Writers already commit enough errors from ignorance, errors that it is hard for any human being completely to avoid.

But if we deliberately write falsehoods, whether for the sake of country or friends or favor, how are we any different from those who make their living by such conduct?

Just as they ruin the credit of their compositions by measuring everything by gain, so political writers, drawn by hatred or affection, often fall into the same fault.

Therefore readers ought to watch carefully in this matter, and writers ought to be on their guard themselves.

Chapter 15 The Battle of Lade According to Zeno and Antisthenes

What I mean becomes clear from the facts themselves. These writers admit in their detailed account of the battle off Lade that two Rhodian quinqueremes were captured by the enemy with all their crews.

They also admit that when one ship in the battle hoisted a sail because it had been damaged and was taking on water, many of the nearby ships did the same and withdrew toward the open sea.

In the end, they say, the admiral was left with only a few vessels and was forced to do the same.

For the moment they were driven by conditions to anchor off the territory of Myndus, and on the next day they put out again and crossed over to Cos.

The enemy meanwhile secured the quinqueremes and, anchoring off Lade, took up quarters in the Rhodian camp.

They add that the Milesians, astonished by what had happened, crowned not only Philip but also Heracleides because of the expedition.

So after relating facts that are obviously the marks of defeat, they still declare, both in their detailed account and in their general conclusion, that the Rhodians were victorious.

And this although the actual dispatch sent at that time by the admiral to the council and prytaneis still remains in their own prytaneum, and it agrees not with the judgments of Antisthenes and Zeno but with mine.

Chapter 16 Zeno's Account of the Attack on Messene

Next after this they write about the treacherous breach of treaty against the Messenians.

In this section Zeno says that Nabis set out from Sparta, crossed the Eurotas near the river called Hoplites, and marched by the narrow road past Poliasium until he reached the region around Sellasia.

From there, he says, he made for Thalamae and by way of Pharae came to the river Pamisus.

I hardly know what one ought to say about this. The whole statement is as absurd as if someone were to say that a man set out from Corinth, crossed the Isthmus, and by the Scironian road immediately came to the Contoporia and then traveled past Mycenae to Argos.

For these places are not just slightly out of line with one another; they lie in opposite directions. The Isthmus and the Scironian road are east of Corinth, while the Contoporia and Mycenae lie toward the southwest.

So it is wholly impossible to get to the latter by way of the former.

The same thing is true in the case of Laconia.

The Eurotas and the region of Sellasia lie to the northeast of Sparta, while Thalamae, Pharae, and the Pamisus lie to the southwest.

So a man intending to go into Messenia by way of Thalamae ought not to go toward Sellasia, indeed ought not even to cross the Eurotas at all.

Chapter 17 Some of Zeno's Mistakes Due to Ignorance

Besides this, he says that Nabis began his return from Messene by the gate leading to Tegea.

But that is senseless. Megalopolis lies between Tegea and Messene, so it is impossible that any gate at Messene should be called the gate to Tegea.

There is, however, among the Messenians a gate called the Tegean Gate, and it was by this that Nabis made his return. Zeno was misled by the name and supposed that Tegea lay close to Messenia.

But it does not. Between Messenia and the territory of Tegea lie both Laconia and the land of Megalopolis.

Finally, he says that the Alpheus disappears underground right from its source, travels a long way beneath the earth, and emerges near Lycoa in Arcadia.

In fact, the river disappears not far from its source and, after being hidden for ten stades, comes up again.

After that it flows through the territory of Megalopolis, at first gently, then growing larger, and after running clearly through that whole region for about two hundred stades it reaches Lycoa, having by then also taken in the stream of the Lusius and become altogether deep and unfordable. [...]

Still, all these faults seem to me to be mistakes that admit excuse. Some arose from ignorance, and what he wrote about the naval battle came from affection for his own country.

What then could one rightly blame in Zeno? That he has spent more effort not on investigating the facts or mastering the subject, but on the polish of his language, and often shows pride in that, just as many other distinguished writers do.

I say that one should indeed take care and work hard to report events properly; that obviously contributes no little, indeed a great deal, to history.

But sensible men should not treat this as the chief and primary matter. Other parts of history are far finer, and on those a statesman ought rather to pride himself.

Chapter 18 Zeno's Account of the Battle of Panium

What I mean may be made especially clear in the following way.

When this same writer describes the siege of Gaza and the battle line drawn up by Antiochus against Scopas in Coele-Syria near Panium, he shows such concern for verbal embellishment that he leaves no room for rhetorical showmen who compose display pieces meant to astonish the crowd.

But for the facts he shows such contempt that his ease and inexperience as a historian are once more beyond all measure.

For when he sets out first to explain Scopas' line of battle, he says that the phalanx, together with a few cavalry, rested with its right wing on the slope of the hills, while its left wing, along with all the cavalry stationed there, stood on the level ground.

He then says that before dawn Antiochus sent his elder son Antiochus with part of the army to seize the higher ground above the enemy, and that at daybreak he himself led the rest of his forces across the river between the two camps and drew them up on the plain, placing the phalangites in a single straight line opposite the middle of the enemy formation, and the cavalry on the left and right of the phalanx, including the armored horse under the command of the younger Antiochus, one of the king's sons.

After this, he says, Antiochus stationed the elephants in front of the phalanx at intervals, along with the Tarentines under Antipater, filled the spaces between the elephants with archers and slingers, and himself took position behind the elephants with the household cavalry and the hypaspists.

Yet after laying out the battle in this way, he says that this younger Antiochus, whom he had placed on the level ground on the enemy's left with the armored cavalry, charged down from the hills, routed the cavalry under Ptolemy son of Aeropus, and pursued them. This Ptolemy had command of the Aetolians stationed on the plain on the left wing.

Meanwhile, he says, the phalanxes, once they joined battle, fought stubbornly.

But he does not even see that they could not possibly have joined battle at all with elephants, cavalry, and light troops drawn up in front of them.

Chapter 19 Zeno's Description Implausible

After this he says that the phalanx, being outmatched in agility and pressed by the Aetolians, fell back step by step, while the elephants received those who gave way and, crashing into the enemy, rendered great service.

But how this happened behind the phalanx is not easy to understand, or how, once there, they rendered such great service.

For once the phalanxes had actually joined, it would no longer have been possible for the elephants to distinguish friend from foe among those who came before them.

Besides this, he says that the Aetolian cavalry were hampered in the battle by being unused to the appearance of elephants.

But, according to his own account, the cavalry originally stationed on the right remained unharmed, while the entire mass of cavalry assigned to the left had already fled after being defeated by Antiochus and his force.

What part of the cavalry, then, was there in the middle of the phalanx to be frightened by the elephants?

And where was the king, or what service did he render in the battle, when he had with him the finest body of infantry and cavalry around his own person? Nothing at all is said about these matters.

And where was the elder son Antiochus, who with part of the army had seized the commanding ground?

For this man does not even return to camp in Zeno's account after the battle. Naturally enough, because Zeno assumed that the king had two sons named Antiochus, when in fact there was only one serving on that campaign.

Again, how is it that Scopas both withdrew first from the battle and also last? Zeno says that when Scopas saw the younger Antiochus appearing from the pursuit in the rear of the phalanx, he gave up hope of victory and began to retreat.

But afterwards he says that the greatest danger came when the phalanx was surrounded by elephants and cavalry, and that Scopas was the last to withdraw from the fighting.

Chapter 20 Zeno Acknowledges His Error

Such things, and in general blunders of this kind, seem to me to bring great shame on historians.

Therefore one ought above all to try to master every part of history, for that is the finest course. But if this is not possible, then one should take the greatest care with the most necessary and important

parts.

I have been led to say this because I now observe, just as in other arts and pursuits, that what is true and useful in each field gets neglected, while what is designed for display and appearance is praised and imitated as something great and marvelous, because it is easier to produce and wins approval more cheaply, just as in other forms of writing.

As for Zeno's ignorance of places in Laconia, since the error was a serious one, I did not hesitate to write to him personally.

I judged it honorable not to treat other people's mistakes as personal advantages, as some are accustomed to do, but to take thought, so far as I could, for correcting not only my own writings but those of others as well, for the common good.

When he received the letter and saw that it was impossible to revise the passage because his books had already been published, he was deeply distressed, though he could do nothing; still, he accepted my action graciously.

And in the same spirit I would ask my readers now and in time to come: if ever I am found knowingly falsifying matters in this work and overlooking the truth, let them censure me without pardon, but if I err through ignorance, let them grant me indulgence, especially because of the size of my history and the vast compass of the events it covers.

Chapter 21 Egypt — Character of Tlepolemus

Tlepolemus, who had charge of the royal government in Egypt, was young in years and had spent his life continuously in military service, with a certain distinction.

By nature he was high-strung and ambitious, and in general he brought many qualities useful for action, but many harmful ones as well.

He was capable of commanding in the field and handling military operations, [...] naturally courageous, and well suited for dealings with soldiers.

But for the management of complicated affairs, which requires steady attention and sobriety, and for guarding money and organizing finances with an eye to advantage, he was the least capable of all men.

Because of this he soon not only ruined himself but damaged the kingdom as well.

For once he had the control of the treasury, he spent most of the day playing ball and competing with young men in exercises with arms.

Then from these pursuits he went straight to drinking parties, and the greater part of his life was passed in these amusements and among these companions.

And whatever part of the day he set aside for audiences, he spent distributing—or rather, if one must tell the truth, scattering—the royal money among envoys who had come from Greece, among the artists of Dionysus, and above all among officers and soldiers of the court.

In fact, he simply did not know how to refuse. If anyone addressed him in a flattering way, he at once handed over whatever was ready to his hand.

So the evil kept growing, increasing by its own momentum.

For everyone who unexpectedly received a favor from him poured out extravagant thanks, both for what had already been gained and for what might still be gained in the future.

And when he heard the universal praise lavished on him, the toasts drunk to him at banquets, the inscriptions in his honor, and the songs and jests sung about him through the whole city, he became at last soft and foolish, more and more puffed up and more and more reckless in dispensing favors to foreigners and soldiers.

Chapter 22 Intrigues At Alexandria

These foreign and military favors irritated the people at court, and they watched everything closely, resented his arrogance, and by comparison admired Sosibius.

For Sosibius was thought to be more prudent in his management of the king than his years would suggest, and to conduct dealings with outsiders in a manner worthy of the trust committed to him, namely the royal seal and the king's person.

At this time Ptolemy son of Sosibius returned from Philip.

Before sailing from Alexandria he had already been full of vanity, partly from his own nature and partly from the favorable position his father had gained.

But once he landed in Macedonia and mixed with the young men at court, he came to think that Macedonian manliness consisted in their style of footwear and dress. So he came back imitating all these things, convinced that foreign travel and association with Macedonians had made a man of him, while those at Alexandria remained mere slaves and weaklings.

As a result he immediately grew jealous of Tlepolemus and set himself against him.

Since all the courtiers agreed with him, because Tlepolemus was handling the kingdom and its funds not like a guardian but like an heir, the quarrel quickly grew.

At first Tlepolemus, as hostile talk reached him through the spying and meddling of the courtiers, ignored it and treated their words with contempt.

But when they actually dared to sit together and openly criticize him in the middle of the court, though he was absent, for mismanaging the kingdom, he was angered. He summoned the council and came

forward saying that they made their slanders against him secretly and in private, whereas he thought it right to make his accusation against them openly and face to face.

After this public speech he also took the seal away from Sosibius, and once he had that in his possession, he managed everything henceforth according to his own will.

Chapter 22a Polybius Praises the Loyalty of Gaza

When King Antiochus sacked the city of the Gazans, Polybius says:

“It seems to me both just and fitting to give the people of Gaza the testimony they deserve.

For though they are no different from the other people of Coele-Syria in courage for war, they surpass them greatly in loyalty to a common cause and in keeping faith, and taken altogether they possess a courage that cannot be shaken.

For when the Persians invaded, while all the others were terrified by the greatness of that empire and surrendered themselves and their cities to the Medes, the Gazans alone all stood firm and endured the danger by accepting a siege.

And when Alexander came, while not only the others had surrendered, but even the Tyrians had been violently enslaved, and there was hardly any hope of safety left for those who opposed Alexander’s onset and force, they alone among the peoples of Syria held out and proved stronger than every expectation.

They acted in much the same way in the present crisis as well, leaving nothing undone in their eagerness to preserve their loyalty to Ptolemy.

Therefore, just as we single out good men for honorable mention in our histories, so too we ought in the same way to preserve a public memory of those cities that, by inherited character and deliberate choice, are accustomed to act nobly.”

Chapter 23 Scipio’s Triumph

Publius Scipio returned from Libya not long after the events just described.

Since the expectation of the multitude matched the greatness of his achievements, the splendor surrounding the man and the goodwill of the people toward him were correspondingly great.

And this happened reasonably and as it should.

For men who had never expected to drive Hannibal out of Italy or rid themselves and their families of the danger hanging over them now thought themselves securely beyond all fear and all peril, and not merely safe but masters of their enemies. So their joy knew no bounds. And when Scipio entered in triumph, then, as the spectacle of the procession vividly reminded them of the dangers they had passed

through, they became even more deeply moved both in their thankfulness to the gods and in their affection for the man responsible for such a great reversal.

For Syphax, king of the Masaesylii, was led through the city at that time in the triumph among the prisoners, and some time later he died in custody.

After all this was over, the people in Rome kept celebrating splendid games and festivals for many days, with Scipio's own generosity providing the means.

Chapter 24 War Between Rome and Philip V

At the beginning of winter, in the year when Publius Sulpicius became consul at Rome, King Philip was staying at Bargylia. Seeing that the Rhodians and Attalus were not disbanding their fleet, but actually filling up their crews and watching the coast with even greater energy, he was in a very troubled state and had many and varied thoughts about the future.

He was anxious at once about getting out from Bargylia and foresaw danger by sea, and at the same time he distrusted the situation in Macedonia and by no means wanted to winter in Asia, being afraid of both the Aetolians and the Romans.

For he was well aware of the embassies being sent to Rome against him, [...] for this reason affairs in Libya were at an end. So he was in extreme distress, yet for the moment he was forced to stay where he was and, as the saying goes, live the life of a wolf.

For because his army was starving, he fed it now by plundering and stealing from some, now by using force against others, and at times even by fawning in a way unnatural to him; sometimes they got meat, sometimes figs, and sometimes only a very scanty amount of grain.

Some of these supplies were provided by Zeuxis, others by the people of Mylasa, Alabanda, and Magnesia. When any of them gave him something he flattered them, but when they did not, he barked at them and plotted against them.

In the end he tried, through Philocles, to bring about operations against the city of Mylasa, but the attempt failed through the stupidity of the scheme.

As for the territory of the Alabandians, he ravaged it like enemy land, saying that he had to secure provisions for his army.

Polybius of Megalopolis also says in the sixteenth book of his Histories: "Philip, the father of Perseus, when he was overrunning Asia and was in want of provisions for his soldiers, received figs from the Magnesians because they had no grain. For that reason, when he got possession of Myus, he granted the place to the Magnesians in return for the figs."

Chapter 25 King Attalus At Athens

The people of Athens sent envoys to King Attalus both to thank him for what had already happened and to urge him to come to Athens so that they could consult together about the present crisis.

A few days later the king learned that Roman ambassadors had arrived at the Piraeus, and since he thought it necessary to meet them, he sailed there in haste.

When the Athenian people heard that he was coming, they passed lavish decrees about meeting him and about the whole manner of receiving the king.

After Attalus landed at the Piraeus, he spent the first day in business with the Roman envoys, and he was delighted to see that they remembered their former common cause and were ready for war against Philip.

On the next day he went up to the city with the Romans and the Athenian magistrates amid great ceremony. Not only those in office and the cavalry came out to meet them, but all the citizens as well, with their children and wives.

When they met, the goodwill shown by the crowd to the Romans, and still more to Attalus, left nothing beyond it.

When he entered by the Dipylon gate, priestesses and priests stood in lines on both sides. Then all the temples were opened, victims were placed beside every altar, and they invited him to offer sacrifice.

Finally they voted him such honors as they had scarcely ever granted so quickly to any of their earlier benefactors.

Among other things they created a tribe named after Attalus and enrolled him among their eponymous founders.

Chapter 26 Athens Votes for War Against Philip

After this they summoned an assembly and invited the king to address it.

But he declined, saying that it would be vulgar to come forward in person and recount his own benefactions to those who had received them.

So they gave up asking him to appear, but requested him to write down what he thought best for the present circumstances and to hand it over.

He agreed and wrote it, and the presiding magistrates then introduced the letter.

Its main points were a reminder of the earlier benefactions he had shown the people, an account of what he had done against Philip in the present crisis, and finally an appeal to join the war against Philip, together with a solemn warning that if they did not now choose to share nobly in the hostility together with the Rhodians, the Romans, and himself, but later, after letting the occasion pass, wanted to share in the peace once others had won it, they would miss what was truly best for their country.

When this letter was read, the people were ready to vote for war, both because of what was said and because of their goodwill toward Attalus.

Then the Rhodians also came forward and spoke at length to the same effect, and the Athenians resolved to declare war on Philip.

They also received the Rhodians magnificently, crowned their state with a crown for valor, and granted all Rhodians equal civic rights, because, among other services, they had restored to them the ships that had been captured, together with the men on board.

After accomplishing this, the Rhodian envoys sailed away with the fleet to Ceos and the islands.

Chapter 27 The Romans Warn Philip Not to Attack Greece

At the time when the Roman ambassadors were staying in Athens, Nicanor, acting for Philip, was raiding Attica as far as the Academy.

The Romans sent a herald ahead to him, met with him, and told him to report to Philip that the Romans called on the king to make war on none of the Greeks, and to submit the wrongs done to Attalus to judgment before an impartial tribunal.

They added that if he did this, he could remain at peace with Rome, but if he refused to obey, the opposite would follow. Nicanor heard this and withdrew.

The Romans delivered the same message about Philip to the Epirotes as they sailed past Phoenice, and to Amynander when they went up into Athamania; similarly they addressed the Aetolians at Naupactus and the Achaeans at Aegium.

Having thus made these terms known to Philip through Nicanor, they themselves sailed on to Antiochus and Ptolemy to arrange a settlement.

Chapter 28 Activity and Energy of Philip

It seems to me that many men have managed to make a good beginning and to keep their enthusiasm strong enough for the growth of their enterprises, but to carry their purpose through to the end, and even when fortune stands against them to make reason supply what impulse lacks, belongs to only a few.

So in this case one might rightly blame Attalus and the Rhodians for lack of effort, while admiring in Philip what was kingly and high-spirited and his persistence in his purpose—not praising his whole character, but noting the force of his energy at that moment.

I make this distinction so that no one may think I am contradicting myself, since just now I was praising Attalus and the Rhodians and blaming Philip, and now I seem to do the reverse.

For this is exactly why I said at the beginning of my work that it is necessary sometimes to praise and sometimes to blame the same men.

Circumstances often change men's purposes for the worse, and often for the better, and sometimes, by their own natural character, men are at one time moved toward what is right and at another toward the opposite. One of these things, I think, happened in Philip's case here.

For stung by his losses, and acting largely out of anger and passion, he adapted himself to the needs of the moment with a kind of fierce, almost inspired energy. In this way he rose up against the Rhodians and King Attalus and carried through the next series of actions.

I was led to say this because some men, like bad runners in a race, give up their purpose near the finish, while others win over their rivals most of all at that very point.

Chapter 29 The Hellespont Compared with Gibraltar

Philip wanted to deprive the Romans of their bases and landing points in that region.

That way, if he later chose to cross again into Asia, he would have Abydos as his landing place.

As for the position of Abydos and Sestos and the advantages of these cities, it seems to me pointless to describe everything at length, because all who gain even a little benefit from such knowledge already know these places on account of their special character.

Still, to remind my readers of the main points is not useless for the present discussion.

One can best understand the situation of these cities not simply by looking at the places themselves, but by setting beside them and comparing the places that I am about to mention.

Just as no one can sail from what some call Ocean and others the Atlantic Sea into our sea without passing through the mouth by the Pillars of Heracles, so no one can sail from our sea into the Propontis and the Pontus without making the passage through the channel between Sestos and Abydos.

And as if Fortune had deliberately shaped the two straits in answer to one another, the passage by the Pillars of Heracles turns out to be many times wider than the Hellespont.

The one is sixty stades across, while that at Abydos is two, as though one might infer this from the fact that the outer sea is so much greater than ours.

Yet the crossing at Abydos is more serviceable than that at the Pillars of Heracles.

For the former, inhabited on both sides, has the character of a gate because of the intercourse between the two shores: at times it is bridged by those who wish to cross on foot between the continents, and at other times it is constantly traversed by shipping.

But the channel at the Pillars of Heracles is rarely used and by few, because the peoples living at the far ends of Libya and Europe have little intercourse with one another and because the outer sea remains largely unknown.

The city of Abydos itself is enclosed on both sides by promontories from Europe, and it has a harbor able to shelter ships lying there from every wind.

Apart from entering that harbor, there is nowhere at all near the city where one can anchor, because of the sharpness and violence of the current running through the strait.

Chapter 30 The Siege of Abydos

Philip, after surrounding the Abydenians partly with palisades and partly with entrenchments, besieged them both by land and by sea.

This siege was not remarkable for the scale of the preparations or for the variety of inventions in the engineering, by which besiegers and besieged usually try to outdo one another in skill.

But in respect to the courage of the defenders and the extraordinary greatness of their spirit, it was, if any siege ever was, worthy of memory and record.

At first the inhabitants of Abydos, trusting in themselves, stoutly withstood Philip's preparations. Of the machines brought against them by sea, they shook some apart by striking them with stone-throwers and destroyed others with fire, so that the enemy could scarcely drag their ships back out of danger.

Against the works on land they also held out bravely for a time, not despairing of mastering the enemy.

But when the outer wall fell because of the mines, and then the Macedonians by further tunneling reached the inner wall that had been built behind the breach, they then sent ambassadors, Iphiades and Pantagnotus, instructing Philip to take over the city on condition that he let the soldiers from Rhodes and Attalus depart under truce, and that he allow all free persons to save themselves, each wherever he chose, with the clothing on his body.

But Philip ordered them to leave everything to his decision or else fight bravely.

Chapter 31 The People of Abydos Resolve to Conquer or Die

After this answer the envoys returned. When the Abydenians heard what had been said, they gathered in assembly and, utterly beside themselves in their thinking, took counsel about the crisis.

They resolved first to free the slaves, so that they might have comrades in the struggle who would fight without excuse; next, to gather all the women into the temple of Artemis and the children with their nurses into the gymnasium.

After that they decided to collect all the silver and gold into the marketplace, and likewise to bring all valuable clothing onto the Rhodian quadrireme and the Cyzicene trireme.

After proposing and carrying out these measures unanimously, they again assembled in the public meeting and chose fifty of the older men, those most trusted and still strong enough in body to carry out what had been resolved.

These they bound by oath before all the citizens that, whenever they saw the inner wall taken by the enemy, they would slaughter the women and children, burn the ships already mentioned, and cast the silver and gold into the sea in accordance with the curses pronounced.

After this they brought forward the priests, and all swore either to prevail over the enemy or to die fighting for their country.

To crown all, after sacrificing victims and pronouncing curses, they compelled the priests and priestesses to utter imprecations over the burnt offerings concerning all these resolutions.

Once they had ratified these decisions, they gave up countermining the enemy and settled on this course: when the inner wall fell, they would fight on the breach itself and die there resisting those who forced their way in.

Chapter 32 Courage of the Abydenians

From this one might say that the courage of the Abydenians surpassed both the proverbial recklessness of the Phocians and the bravery of the Acarnanians.

For the Phocians are thought to have taken similar counsel about their families, but they had not utterly given up hope of victory, because they were going to fight the Thessalians in open country in a pitched battle. The same was true of the Acarnanians, when, foreseeing an Aetolian invasion, they resolved on similar measures for the emergency, as I have explained earlier in detail.

But the Abydenians, shut in and almost despairing of salvation, chose as a whole people rather to meet their fate along with their children and wives than to go on living with the foreknowledge that their children and wives would fall under enemy power.

So one might especially blame Fortune in the case of the Abydenians, because in the earlier disasters she seemed to pity the sufferers and at once set matters right by giving victory together with safety to those who had despaired, whereas in the case of the Abydenians she reached the opposite decision.

For the men died, the city was taken, and the children along with their mothers fell into the enemy's hands.

Chapter 33 The Fall of Abydos

When the inner wall fell, the Abydenians leaped onto the breach and fought the enemy in accordance with their oaths with such desperate courage that Philip, though he kept sending Macedonians in relays against them until nightfall, at last gave up the fight in despair even of the entire undertaking.

For the Abydenians who had stepped forward first did not merely stand on the bodies of the dying enemy and fight with fierce resolve, nor did they only use their swords and spears with reckless bravery.

When any of those weapons became useless or were violently knocked from their hands, they grappled with the Macedonians, threw some down with all their armor, and shattered the sarissas of others, then with the very fragments [...] struck their faces and exposed parts with the spear-points, throwing them into total confusion.

But when night came on and the fighting ceased, with most of the citizens dead at the breach and the rest exhausted by toil and wounds, Glaucides and Theognetus gathered a few of the older men together and, for the sake of their own hopes, cast down the noble and astonishing greatness of their fellow citizens' resolve.

For they decided to spare the children and women alive, and at daybreak to send the priests and priestesses out with garlands to Philip to beg mercy and surrender the city to him.

Chapter 34 The Abydenians Carry Out Their Resolution

While this was happening, King Attalus, hearing that the Abydenians were under siege, sailed through the Aegean to Tenedos, and at the same time Marcus Aemilius, the youngest of the Roman envoys, came by sea to Abydos itself.

For when the Romans heard clearly at Rhodes about the siege of Abydos and wished to speak directly to Philip in accordance with their instructions, they put off their journey to the kings and sent this man ahead.

When he met Philip near Abydos, he told the king that the Senate had resolved to call on him neither to make war on any Greek state nor to lay hands on Ptolemy's dominions, but to submit the wrongs done to Attalus and the Rhodians to judgment.

If he acted in this way, he could remain at peace; if he refused to obey, war with Rome would at once be upon him.

When Philip tried to argue that the Rhodians had laid hands on him first, Marcus broke in and asked, "And what about the Athenians? What about the Cians? What about the Abydenians now? Which of them laid hands on you first?"

The king, at a loss on every side, said that he excused his arrogant speech for three reasons: first, because Marcus was young and inexperienced in affairs; second, because he was the handsomest man

of his time—which was in fact true; and above all, because he was a Roman.

"But I," he said, "above all demand of the Romans that they not break the treaties and make war on me. If they do that, I shall defend myself bravely, calling on the gods."

So after saying these things they parted from one another.

Philip then got possession of the city and, because the whole property of the Abydenians had been gathered together, he took it over ready to hand.

But when he saw the multitude and fury of those killing themselves and their children and wives—stabbing, burning, hanging, throwing themselves into wells, and hurling themselves from roofs—he was astonished. Distressed at what was happening, he gave notice that he allowed three days for anyone who wished to hang himself or cut his own throat.

But the Abydenians had already made up their minds from the beginning, and they thought that to go on living would be to become traitors to those who had fought and died for their country. So none of them could endure life, except those who had already been restrained by chains or some similar compulsion.

All the rest, without delay, hurried each with their own family to death.

Chapter 35 Rhodes Holds to its Friendship With Rome

After the fall of Abydos, envoys came to Rhodes from the Achaean League urging the people to make peace with Philip.

But when the Roman ambassadors arrived and argued that no settlement should be made with Philip without the Romans, the Rhodian people resolved to listen to the Romans and to keep their friendship with them in view.

Chapter 36 A Muster of Achaeans Against Nabis

Philopoemen calculated the distances of all the Achaean cities and determined which of them could reach Tegea by the same roads.

He then wrote letters to all the cities and sent them to the farthest ones, arranging it so that each distant city held not only its own letter but also those for all the other cities lying on the same route.

The first letters addressed to the chief magistrates contained these instructions: "When you receive this letter, immediately cause all men of military age to assemble in the marketplace at once with their arms, supplies for five days, and five days' money.

When those present have assembled, take them and lead them to the next city. And when you arrive there, deliver the letter addressed to the magistrate there and obey its instructions."

The next letter contained the same directions as the first, except that the name of the next city to which they were to march was different.

By repeating this arrangement continuously, first of all no one knew for what purpose or against what target the preparation was being made; secondly, beyond the name of the next city, no one knew at all where he was going.

So everyone, puzzled and taking one contingent after another with them, kept moving forward.

Because the most distant cities were not all equally far from Tegea, the letters were not delivered to them all at the same time, but to each in due proportion.

As a result, neither the Tegeans nor the arriving contingents knew what was going to happen, and all the Achaeans entered Tegea under arms at the same time through all the gates.

Chapter 37 A Raid Upon Laconia

This was the plan Philopoemen devised and turned over in his mind because of the great number of the tyrant's eavesdroppers and spies.

On the day when the mass of the Achaeans was to gather at Tegea, he sent out picked men, arranging matters so that after spending the night near Sellasia they would at daybreak on the following day raid Laconia.

If the mercenaries came out to help and harassed them, they were ordered to retire toward Scotitas and in all other respects obey Didascalondas the Cretan, for to him Philopoemen had entrusted the whole operation and given his full instructions.

These men then advanced confidently on the task assigned to them. Philopoemen himself, at the proper hour, ordered the Achaeans to prepare supper, led the army out from Tegea, made a vigorous night march, and around dawn posted the force at the place called Scotitas, between Tegea and Sparta.

The mercenaries at Pellene, on the next day, as soon as the scouts signaled the enemy raid, came at once to the rescue, as was their custom, and pressed hard upon the opposing force.

The Achaeans, according to their orders, withdrew, and the mercenaries followed behind, attacking boldly and with confidence.

But as soon as they came into the ground where the ambush lay, the Achaeans sprang up, and some of the enemy were cut down while others were taken alive.

Chapter 38 Philip Tries to Rouse the Achaeans Against Rome

Philip saw that the Achaeans were acting cautiously about the war with Rome, and he eagerly tried by every possible means to drive them into hostility.

Chapter 39 Coele-Syria

Polybius of Megalopolis gives witness to what we have said. For in the sixteenth book of his Histories he says as follows: “Scopas, the general of Ptolemy, marched into the upper country and during the winter subdued the nation of the Jews.”

But since the siege had been conducted in a wandering and ineffective way, Scopas came under disrepute and was attacked with youthful recklessness.

And in the same book Polybius says that “when Scopas was defeated by Antiochus, Antiochus took Batanaea, Samaria, Abila, and Gadara.

A little later the Jews living around the sanctuary called Jerusalem also went over to him.

We have more to say about this place, and especially about the renowned manifestation connected with the sanctuary there, but we shall postpone that account to another time.”

Chapter 40 Geographical Fragments of Uncertain Place

Babrantion, a place near Chios. Polybius, book sixteen.

Gitta, a city of Palestine.

Polybius, book sixteen.

Hella, a place in Asia, a trading station of King Attalus. Polybius, book sixteen.

Insubri, an Italian people.

Polybius, book sixteen.

Candasa.

[...] a fortress in Caria. Polybius, book sixteen.

Carthaea, one of the four cities on Ceos.

[...] the inhabitants are called Carthaeans. Polybius, book sixteen.

Mantya, a city of the Romans.

Its ethnic name is Mantyanus. Polybius, book sixteen.

Book XVII

Book XVII — Lost. Nothing of this book survives.

Nothing of this book survives.

Book XVIII

Titus Quinctius Flamininus proclaiming the freedom of the Greeks at the Isthmian Games (196 BC). Book XVIII, 46.

Chapter 1 The War with Philip

When the appointed time came, Philip sailed out from Demetrias into the Melian Gulf with five light galleys and one pristis, the ship on which he himself was sailing.

With him were the Macedonians Apollodorus and Demosthenes, his secretaries; Brachylles from Boeotia; and Cycliadas the Achaean, who had been driven from the Peloponnese for the reasons I mentioned earlier.

With Titus were King Amynander and Dionysodorus from Attalus, and from the leagues and cities there were Aristaenus and Xenophon for the Achaeans, Acesimbrotus the admiral for the Rhodians, Phaeneas the general for the Aetolians, and many other public men besides.

When they had come near Nicaea by the sea, Titus and his party took their stand on the very edge of the shore, while Philip brought his ship close in and remained on board.

When Titus told him to come ashore, Philip rose from his seat on the ship and said he would not disembark.

When Titus then asked whom he was afraid of, Philip answered that he feared no one except the gods, but that he distrusted most of those present, especially the Aetolians.

The Roman commander was surprised and said that the danger was equal for all and the moment a common one; but Philip replied that he was mistaken.

If anything happened to Phaeneas, he said, the Aetolians would have many others to serve as generals; but if Philip were killed in the present crisis, the Macedonians would have no one to be their king.

Everyone thought this a heavy-handed way to begin the conversation. Even so, Titus told him to speak about the matters for which he had come.

Philip replied that it was not for him to begin, but for Titus; therefore he asked Titus to state plainly what he must do in order to have peace.

The Roman commander answered that what he had to say was simple and perfectly clear.

Philip must withdraw from the whole of Greece, restore to each state the prisoners and deserters he held, hand over to the Romans the places in Illyria that he had occupied since the settlement in Epirus, and likewise restore to Ptolemy all the cities he had taken after the death of Ptolemy Philopator.

Chapter 2 Congress of Nicaea

After saying this Titus stopped speaking, turned to the others, and told each man to state what instructions he had received from those who had sent him.

Dionysodorus, the envoy of Attalus, spoke first. He said Philip must give back the king's ships that had been captured in the naval battle off Chios, together with the men taken on them, and must also restore unharmed the sanctuary of Aphrodite and the Nicephorium, which he had damaged.

After him Acesimbrotus, the Rhodian admiral, demanded that Philip withdraw from the Peraea, which he had taken from them, and remove his garrisons from Iasus, Bargylia, and the city of the Euromians, and that he restore the people of Perinthus to their civic union with Byzantium, and also give up Sestus, Abydus, and all the trading-posts and harbors in Asia.

After the Rhodians the Achaeans demanded Corinth and the safety of Argos.

After them the Aetolians said first, like the Romans, that he must leave all Greece, and second that he must restore to them unharmed the cities that had formerly shared in the Aetolian confederacy.

Chapter 3 Speech of Alexander Isius

When Phaeneas, the Aetolian general, had spoken, Alexander, called Isius, a man thought to be experienced in affairs and a capable speaker, took up the argument.

He said that Philip was neither honestly seeking peace now nor bravely conducting war when war was required, but that in conferences and meetings he laid traps, watched for opportunities, and behaved like a belligerent, while in actual war he took a course that was both unjust and thoroughly ignoble.

Instead of meeting his enemies face to face, he fled about setting cities on fire and plundering them, and by this policy, even while defeated, he spoiled the prizes that properly belonged to the victors.

Yet the earlier kings of Macedon, he said, had not followed this policy, but the opposite one. They fought one another continually in the open field, but only rarely destroyed and ruined cities.

This was plain, he said, both from the war in Asia that Alexander fought against Darius and from the struggles among Alexander's successors, when they all fought Antigonus for possession of Asia.

In the same way those who succeeded them continued to follow this principle down to the time of Pyrrhus.

They readily risked battle against one another in the open and did everything to master each other by force of arms, but they spared the cities, so that the victors might rule them and receive honor from those who were brought under their power.

To destroy the very things for which a war is being fought was, he said, madness, and violent madness at that; and this was exactly what Philip was doing now.

For while hurrying from the passes in Epirus he had destroyed more cities in Thessaly, though he was Thessaly's friend and ally, than anyone who had ever made war on the Thessalians had destroyed.

After speaking at length on this theme, he ended with the following questions.

Why had Philip seized Lysimacheia, a city aligned with the Aetolians and governed by a magistrate appointed by them, expelled that official, and held the city with a garrison?

Why had he enslaved the people of Cius, who were likewise members of the Aetolian confederacy, though he was supposedly a friend of the Aetolians? And on what grounds was he now holding Echinus, Phthian Thebes, Pharsalus, and Larisa?

Chapter 4 Philip's Response

When Alexander had finished, he fell silent. Philip brought his ship nearer the shore than before, stood up on deck, and said that Alexander's speech had been delivered in the true Aetolian and theatrical style.

Everyone knew perfectly well, he said, that no one willingly destroys his own allies; but circumstances and critical moments often force leaders to do many things contrary to their own intentions.

While the king was still speaking, Phaeneas, who was extremely weak-sighted, interrupted Philip and said that he was talking nonsense: he ought either to win by fighting or to do what the stronger side ordered.

Philip, though he was in a bad position, still could not give up his usual habit. Turning toward Phaeneas, he said, "That, Phaeneas, is obvious even to a blind man." He was quick-witted and naturally good at mocking people.

Then he turned back again to Alexander and said, "You ask me, Alexander, why I took possession of Lysimacheia.

It was so that, through your negligence, it would not be laid waste by the Thracians, as in fact it now has been, once I was forced by this war to remove my troops from it—not a garrison occupying the city, as you say, but men guarding it.

As for the people of Cius, I did not make war on them. Prusias was at war with them, and I helped him destroy them; and you were the cause of it.

For many times both I and the other Greeks sent embassies to you, asking you to repeal the law that gave you the right to carry off spoil from spoil, but you said you would sooner remove Aetolia from Aetolia than repeal that law."

Chapter 5 Philip Retorts On His Accusers

When Titus expressed surprise at what this meant, the king tried to make it clear to him, saying that the Aetolians had a custom of plundering not only those against whom they themselves were at war, together with their territory, but, even when other peoples were at war with one another while being friends and allies of the Aetolians, it was no less permitted to the Aetolians—without any common decree—to assist both of the warring parties at once and to plunder the territory of both alike, so that among the Aetolians there were no fixed boundaries of friendship or of enmity; instead, they stood ready to be the foes and enemies of everyone who had a quarrel about anything.

"On what grounds, then," he asked, "are they entitled to bring charges against me now, if I, being a friend of the Aetolians but an ally of Prusias, took some action against the Cians in support of my own allies?

But the most outrageous thing of all is that these men set themselves up as rivals of the Romans and order the Macedonians to withdraw from the whole of Greece.

To utter such a thing is arrogant in general; yet, when Romans say it, it is bearable, but when Aetolians say it, it is not bearable. And from what kind of Greece," he said, "do you order me to withdraw, and how do you define its limits? For most of the Aetolians themselves are not Greeks: the nation of the Agraeans, that of the Apodoti, and likewise that of the Amphilochians are not part of Greece.

Or do you grant me leave to keep those?"

Chapter 6 Philip's Answer to the Rhodians and Attalus

When Titus laughed, Philip said, "Well, let that be enough on my part as regards the Aetolians. But as for the Rhodians and Attalus—before an impartial judge it would be reckoned more just that they should give back to us the captured ships and the men than that we should give them back to these people.

For we were not the first to lay hands on Attalus and the Rhodians; it was they who did so to us, as is generally admitted.

Nevertheless, since you bid me, I restore the Peraea to the Rhodians, and to Attalus the ships and such of the men as have survived.

As for the destruction of the Nicephorium and the precinct of Aphrodite, there is no other way I can restore them, but I will send plants and gardeners to take charge of caring for the place and of growing back the trees that were cut down."

When Titus laughed again at this mockery, Philip turned to the Achaeans and first enumerated the benefactions that had been conferred upon them by Antigonus, and then his own.

Next to these he set forth the magnitude of the honors that had been bestowed on Antigonus and himself by the Achaeans.

Finally he read out the decree concerning their defection and their going over to the Romans; using this as his pretext, he said much against the Achaeans, charging them with faithlessness and ingratitude.

Even so, he said he would give back Argos, but that regarding Corinth he would take counsel with Titus.

Chapter 7 A Retort of Flamininus

Having discussed these matters with the others, he turned to Titus, saying that his argument was really with him and with the Romans, and asked whether he thought he ought to withdraw only from the cities and places he had himself acquired among the Greeks, or also from those he had inherited from his forefathers.

When Titus fell silent, Aristaenus on behalf of the Achaeans and Phaeneas on behalf of the Aetolians were ready to answer him on the spot.

But as the hour was now drawing to a close, their speech was cut off by the lateness of the time, and Philip requested that they all hand him in writing the terms on which the peace would have to be made; for, being there alone, he had no one with whom to deliberate, and therefore he wished to give himself time to reflect on the demands being imposed.

Titus was not displeased to hear Philip jesting; but, not wishing to seem so to the others, he gibed back at Philip, saying:

“Naturally, Philip, you are alone now—for you have destroyed all the friends who would have given you the best advice.” At this the Macedonian gave a bitter, sardonic smile and said nothing.

And so for the time being they all, having handed Philip their own positions in writing in accordance with what had been said before, departed, arranging to meet again the next day at Nicaea.

But on the morrow Titus and his party all came to the appointed place at the agreed hour, while Philip did not appear.

Chapter 8 The Dispute Referred To the Senate

When the day was already far advanced and Titus and his party had nearly given up hope, Philip arrived late in the afternoon, appearing with the same companions as before, having used up the whole day—as he himself claimed, because of his difficulty and embarrassment over the demands being imposed, but as it seemed to everyone else, because he wished to use the lateness of the hour to shut out the accusations of both the Achaeans and the Aetolians.

For he had seen, when he was leaving on the previous day, that both of these parties were ready to grapple with him and to lodge complaints against him.

For this reason, on this occasion too, as he drew near, he asked the Roman general to confer with him privately about the matters at hand, so that there should not be merely a war of words between the two contending sides, but that some conclusion might be reached on the points in dispute.

When he repeatedly urged and pressed this request, Titus asked those present with him what he ought to do.

When they bade him meet with Philip and hear what he had to say, Titus took along Appius Claudius, who was then a military tribune, told the others to withdraw a little way from the sea and stay there, and ordered Philip himself to come ashore.

The king, taking with him Apollodorus and Demosthenes, disembarked, and on meeting Titus conversed with him for a considerable time.

What was said by each of them on that occasion is hard to tell; but after Philip had departed, Titus did at least make plain to the others what the king had offered: namely, to give back Pharsalus and Larisa to the Aetolians, but not to give back Thebes; to yield the Peraea to the Rhodians, but not to withdraw from Iasus and Bargylia; to hand over Corinth and the city of the Argives to the Achaeans; to declare that he would surrender to the Romans his holdings in Illyria together with all the prisoners; and to restore to Attalus the ships and such of the men captured in the sea-battles as still survived.

Chapter 9 They Agree to Send Envoys to the Roman Senate

Everyone present was dissatisfied with the settlement and insisted that Philip must first carry out the general requirement—namely, to withdraw from the whole of Greece—and that otherwise the piecemeal concessions amounted to nothing and served no purpose.

Seeing the dispute among them and at the same time fearing their accusations, Philip asked Titus to postpone the meeting until the next day, since the hour was already drawing toward evening; for he would either persuade them or be persuaded by what was being urged.

Titus agreed, and after arranging to come together at the shore near Thronium they parted for the time being; and on the following day they all arrived at the appointed place on time.

Philip, after speaking briefly, asked them all, and especially Titus, not to break off the settlement, now that most of them at least had been brought into a disposition toward agreement, but, if it were possible, to reach an accord among themselves about the points in dispute; and, if not, he said he would send an embassy to the Senate and either persuade it concerning the matters at issue, or do whatever it might command.

When he put forward these proposals, all the rest declared that they ought to press on with the war and pay no attention to his requests.

But the Roman commander said that he too was well aware that Philip was unlikely to do any of the things being asked of him; yet, since granting the favor the king requested in no way hindered their own operations, he said he would grant it as a concession.

For none of the things now being discussed could be ratified without the Senate in any case, and the approaching season was well suited for testing the Senate's mind: since the armies were unable to accomplish anything during the winter anyway, to set this time aside for referring the present circumstances to the Senate was not out of place but advantageous for everyone.

Chapter 10 Pleadings Before the Senate

When they all quickly agreed, seeing that Titus was not opposed to referring the matter to the Senate, it was resolved to allow Philip to send an embassy to Rome, and likewise that each party should send envoys of their own to address the Senate and bring charges against Philip.

Since the affair of the conference had proceeded for Titus according to his wishes and in line with the calculations he had made from the start, he at once went on weaving the continuation of his design, carefully securing his own position and giving Philip no advantage whatsoever.

For having granted him a two-month truce, he ordered him to complete the embassy to Rome within that time, and commanded him to withdraw his garrisons from Phocis and Locris immediately.

He also made careful provision on behalf of his own allies, so that during this period no wrong of any kind should be done to them by the Macedonians.

Having put these terms in writing for Philip, he then carried out the remaining part of his plan himself.

He sent Amynander off to Rome at once, knowing him to be easily led and likely to follow readily the friends he had there, in whichever direction they might draw him, while also creating a certain impression and expectation because of his royal title.

After him he sent his own envoys: Quintus Fabius, who was his wife's nephew, Quintus Fulvius, and along with these Appius Claudius, surnamed Nero.

On behalf of the Aetolians the envoys were Alexander Isius, Damocritus of Calydon, Dicaearchus of Trichonium, Polemarchus of Arsinoe, Lamius of Ambracia, Nicomachus the Acarnanian—one of those who had fled from Thurium and were now settled in Ambracia—and Theodotus of Pherae, an exile from Thessaly, who was living in Stratus; on behalf of the Achaeans, Xenophon of Aegium; on behalf of King Attalus, Alexander alone; and on behalf of the Athenian people, Cephisodorus and his colleagues.

Chapter 11 The Greeks Ask for Help Against Philip

These envoys arrived in Rome before the Senate had settled the matter of the consuls appointed for that year—whether it would be necessary to send both to Gaul, or one of the two against Philip.

But once the friends of Titus had made sure that both consuls would remain in Italy because of the fear of the Gauls, all the envoys came before the Senate and brought sharp charges against Philip.

Most of their accusations were similar to those they had earlier stated to the king himself; but they all tried diligently to implant this idea in the Senate: that so long as Chalcis, Corinth, and Demetrias were under the control of the Macedonian, it was impossible for the Greeks to entertain any notion of freedom.

For what Philip himself had said, they declared, was only too true—when he said, rightly observing it, that the aforementioned places were the "fetters of Greece."

For the Peloponnesians could not breathe freely while a royal garrison sat in Corinth, nor could the Locrians, Boeotians, and Phocians take heart while Philip held Chalcis and the rest of Euboea, nor indeed could the Thessalians or Magnesians ever get a taste of freedom while Philip and the Macedonians held Demetrias.

Therefore Philip's offer to give up the other places was merely for show, a means of escaping the present crisis: for on whatever day he wished, he would easily bring the Greeks back under his power, if he held the aforementioned places.

For this reason they urged the Senate either to compel Philip to withdraw from these cities, or to hold to the policy already adopted and prosecute the war against him vigorously.

For in truth the greatest part of the war had already been accomplished, the Macedonians having already been twice defeated and most of their supplies on land used up.

Having said this, they appealed to the Senate neither to cheat the Greeks of their hopes for freedom nor to rob themselves of the noblest distinction.

So the envoys from the Greeks spoke to this effect and in similar terms; but the envoys from Philip, who had prepared to make their case at greater length, were checked at the very outset.

For when they were asked whether they would give up Chalcis, Corinth, and Demetrias, they replied that they had no instructions concerning these places.

Cut short in this way, they thus ended their speech.

Chapter 12 Greece Assigned to Flamininus

The Senate, then, dispatched both consuls to Gaul, as I said above, and voted that the war against Philip should continue, giving Titus authority over Greek affairs.

When this was quickly made known in Greece, everything had turned out for Titus according to his wishes—chance having contributed in a small way, but the greater part of it all having been managed through his own foresight.

For the aforementioned man was exceedingly shrewd, as much as any other Roman; indeed, he handled with such skill and good sense not only public undertakings but also private interviews that he left no room for anyone to surpass him.

And yet he was still quite young—he was not more than thirty years old—and he was the first to cross over into Greece with an army.

Chapter 13 Wise Patriots or Traitors?

For my own part, the errors that men commit have often, and on many counts, struck me with wonder—but none so much as those that concern traitors.

I therefore wish to say what the occasion calls for on this subject.

And yet I am well aware that the topic is in some respects hard to examine and hard to define, for it is no easy matter to declare whom we ought truly to consider a traitor.

Clearly we should not at once count as traitors those men who, in a time of calm, enter into a partnership of affairs with certain kings or princes; nor, again, those who under the pressure of circumstances shift their own native cities away from existing arrangements toward other friendships and alliances—not these either.

Far from it: for men of this kind have often been the authors of the greatest benefits to their own countries.

And so as not to fetch our examples from far off, what I am saying can readily be grasped from present events themselves.

For had Aristaenus not at that moment, and opportunely, swung the Achaeans away from their alliance with Philip toward that of the Romans, the nation would plainly have been utterly and entirely destroyed.

As it is, quite apart from the safety that each man gained at that very crisis, this man and that policy of his were by common consent held to be the cause of the Achaeans' growth as well; and for this reason all honored him not as a traitor but as a benefactor and savior of the country.

The same account would hold for all the others too who, amid the pressures of the times, pursue a policy and conduct very like theirs.

Chapter 14 Comparison with Philip II and Demosthenes

On this very ground one might, while praising Demosthenes on many counts, find fault with him in this: that he flung a most bitter reproach, carelessly and without proper judgment, at the most distinguished of the Greeks.

For he declared that in Arcadia the circle of Cercidas, Hieronymus, and Eucampidas had become traitors to Greece, because they were allied with Philip; and in Messene the sons of Philiades, Neon and Thrasylochus; and in Argos the circle of Myrtis, Teledamus, and Mnaseas; and likewise in Thessaly the circle of Daochus and Cineas, and among the Boeotians the circle of Theogeiton and Timolas.

Together with these he reckons up still more besides, naming them city by city—and yet all the men just mentioned had much to say, and that plausibly, in defense of what was right for their own situation, and most of all those of Arcadia and Messene.

For it was they who, by drawing Philip into the Peloponnese and humbling the Spartans, first of all enabled all the inhabitants of the Peloponnese to breathe again and to conceive the idea of freedom; and then, by recovering the territory and the cities that the Spartans had seized in their hour of opportunity from the Messenians, the Megalopolitans, the Tegeans, and the Argives, they unquestionably increased the power of their own native lands.

In return for this they were bound not to make war on Philip and the Macedonians, but to do everything in their power that tended to his glory and honor.

Now if they had been acting in this way while also admitting a garrison from Philip into their countries, or while abolishing the laws and stripping their fellow-citizens of freedom and free speech for the sake of their own greed or domination, they would have deserved that title.

But if, while preserving their obligations to their own countries, they merely differed in their judgment of affairs, holding that the same thing was not in the interest of the Athenians and of their own cities, then surely there was no reason for Demosthenes to call them traitors on that account.

The man who measures everything against the interest of his own particular country, and who thinks that all the Greeks ought to keep their eyes fixed on the Athenians—and, failing that, brands them as traitors—seems to me to be ignorant and to be straying far wide of the truth [in what he has done].

And this is all the more so since the events that then befell the Greeks bore witness not that Demosthenes had taken good forethought for the future, but rather Eucampidas, Hieronymus, Cercidas, and the sons of Philiades.

For the upshot of the Athenians' resistance to Philip turned out to be that they tasted the greatest of calamities when they stumbled in the battle at Chaeronea; and had it not been for the king's magnanimity and love of glory, their misfortunes would have gone even further, thanks to the policy of Demosthenes.

But thanks to the men named above, security and ease from the Spartans were secured for the Arcadians and Messenians in common, while for their own native cities in particular many advantages followed besides.

Chapter 15 The Fate of Traitors

To whom, then, might one reasonably apply this name? That is indeed hard to define.

One would come closest to the truth by directing it at those men who, in moments of complete crisis, hand their cities over to the enemy—whether for the sake of their own safety and advantage, or out of a quarrel with their political opponents; or, by Zeus, again at all those who, by admitting a garrison and making use of outside support to serve their own ambitions and designs, place their countries under the power of stronger men.

All such men one might with fair measure rank under the name of treason.

To them nothing truly profitable or honorable has ever followed—quite the contrary, by everyone's admission.

And here one may well marvel, returning to the point I made at the outset: with what end in view, or by what reasonings, do they rush toward such a calamity?

For no one who has betrayed a city, an army, or a fortress has ever yet gone undetected; and even if at the very moment of the act a man escapes notice, the time that follows has made them all plain to see.

Nor, once found out, has any of them ever led a blessed life; rather, as a rule, they meet the punishment they deserve at the hands of the very men they sought to gratify.

For generals and princes often make use of traitors out of self-interest; but once they have squeezed everything from them, they then treat them as traitors, just as Demosthenes says— and very reasonably, reckoning that a man who has put his country and his original friends into the hands of their enemies could never become loyal to themselves nor keep faith with them.

And yet, even if such men escape the hands of these, they do not easily escape the vengeance of those whom they have betrayed in violation of treaty.

But if at some point they slip past the designs of both alike, still the reputation they bear among the rest of mankind follows them as an avenger throughout their whole life, conjuring up many fears, false and true alike, both by night and by day, and abetting and pointing the way for all who are plotting some harm against them; and in the end it does not even let them, in their sleep, find forgetfulness of their crimes, but forces them to dream of every kind of plot and reversal, since they are conscious of the estrangement they have earned from everyone and of the common hatred they bear.

Yet, for all that things stand thus, no one who ever needed a traitor was at a loss for one—save in the very rarest of cases.

From which one might reasonably say that the human race, reputed the most cunning of animals, gives much ground for being held the basest of them.

For the other animals, slaves to their bodily appetites alone, come to grief through these alone; but the human race, for all its endowment of reason, errs no less through its failure to reason than through its nature.

But let this much suffice on the subject. —

Chapter 16 Attalus in Sicyon

King Attalus had even before this been held in exceptional honor by the city of the Sicyonians, ever since he redeemed for them the sacred land of Apollo at no small cost in money, in return for which they set up his colossal statue, ten cubits high, beside the Apollo in the marketplace.

On this occasion, when he again gave them ten talents and ten thousand medimni of wheat, their goodwill was intensified many times over, and they voted him a golden statue and enacted a law to offer sacrifice in his honor each year.

And so Attalus, having received these honors, set sail for Cenchreae. —

Chapter 17 Attalus and the Boeotians

The tyrant Nabis left Timocrates of Pellene in charge of the city of the Argives—since he trusted him above all others and employed him for his most conspicuous affairs—and returned to Sparta. A few days later he sent off his wife, giving her instructions that, once she reached Argos, she was to set about raising money.

On her arrival she far outdid Nabis himself in brutality.

For she summoned the women, some individually, some by families, and inflicted on them every kind of torment and violence, until she had stripped from nearly all of them not only their gold jewelry but also their most costly clothing. —

At greater length Attalus, in his speech, reminded them of the valor their ancestors had shown of old. —

Chapter 18 Roman and Greek Palisading

Titus, unable to determine where the enemy were encamped but knowing for certain that they had entered Thessaly, ordered all his men to cut stakes to carry along with them, ready for whatever the moment might require.

To the Greeks this seems impossible to do, but for the Romans it is easy.

For the Greeks can barely manage even their own sarissas on the march and scarcely endure the fatigue they cause, whereas the Romans, having slung their shields from their shoulders by leather straps and carrying only their javelins in their hands, can take on the additional task of transporting the stakes.

There is also a great difference in the stakes themselves.

The Greeks reckon the best stake to be one that has the most numerous and largest shoots growing all around the stem, while among the Romans the stakes have two or three prongs, or at most four—and stakes having these [...] are chosen [...] not alternately.

As a result, carrying them becomes thoroughly easy—for a single man carries three or four stacked one upon another— and their use in service is exceptionally secure. For the Greek stake, when set in front of the camp, is in the first place easy to tear out: since the part that grips and is held fast by the ground is a single one, while the shoots branching from it are many and large, two or three men can take hold of the same stake by its shoots and pull it up easily.

Once that happens, a gateway is at once created, because of the stake's size, and the stakes beside it are loosened too, since in such a palisade the interlacing and overlapping of the stakes with one another is slight.

With the Romans the opposite occurs. For they set the stakes interwoven with one another from the start, so closely that it is not easy to tell which prongs belong to which of the stems buried in the ground, nor which shoots belong to which prongs.

Consequently it is impossible to slip a hand through and grasp one, since the prongs are dense and pressed against each other, and moreover have been carefully sharpened; nor, even when grasped, is it easy to pull out. For in the first place nearly every stake has the full self-supporting strength its grip on the ground gives it, and in the second place, the man dragging on a single prong is forced—because of the interlacing—to lift many others along with it as they yield to him; while for two or three men to get hold of the same stake is altogether unlikely.

And even if at some point a man does prevail and pull out one or another, the gap left is imperceptible.

Therefore, since there is a great advantage in the fact that such a stake is both readily found, easily transported, and secure and durable in use, it is plain that if any of the other military practices of the Romans deserves emulation and imitation, this one does too—at least in my judgment.

Chapter 19 Flamininus and Philip Nearing Each Other

In any case, Titus, having made these preparations for whatever the moment might require, advanced with his whole army at a walking pace, and when he was about fifty stades from the city of the

Pheraeans he pitched camp on the spot.

On the following day, just before dawn, he sent out scouts to reconnoiter and search for any clue by which they might learn where the enemy were and what they were doing.

Philip, at the same time, learning that the Romans were encamped near Thebes, broke camp from Larisa and advanced with his whole army, making his march in the direction of Pherae.

When he was about thirty stades away, he encamped on the spot for the time being and gave orders, while it was still early, for everyone to see to the care of their bodies; then, just before dawn, he roused his force and sent ahead those who were accustomed to march in front of the army, with orders to cross the ridges above Pherae, while he himself, as day was breaking, moved the army out of the palisaded camp.

The advance parties of both armies came within a little of colliding with one another near the passes; for, catching sight of each other in the gloom from a very short distance, they halted, and both quickly sent word, reporting to their commanders what had happened and asking what they ought to do.

[...] [The orders were] to fall back to the camps below and to recall those advance parties as well.

The next day both sides sent out, for reconnaissance, about three hundred each of their cavalry and light troops; among them Titus also dispatched two squadrons of Aetolians, because of their familiarity with the terrain.

These met one another on the near side of Pherae, toward Larisa, and engaged fiercely.

As Eupolemus the Aetolian and his men fought vigorously and kept calling on the Italians to join the action, the Macedonians began to be hard pressed.

For the time being, after skirmishing for a long while, they separated and withdrew to their respective camps.

Chapter 20 Both Sides Advance on Scotusa

On the following day, both sides, dissatisfied with the country around Pherae because it was overgrown and full of stone walls and garden plots, broke camp.

Philip directed his march toward Scotusa, intending to provision himself from that city and afterward, once he was fully equipped, to take up positions suited to his forces; but Titus, suspecting what was coming, moved his army at the same time as Philip, hurrying to destroy the grain in the territory of Scotusa first.

Since high ridges lay between the two lines of march, neither could the Romans see where the Macedonians were heading, nor the Macedonians the Romans.

So both sides, having completed that day's march—Titus to the place called Eretria in the region of Phthiotis, and Philip to the river Onchestus—made camp where they were, each unaware of the other's encampment.

On the next day they advanced and encamped, Philip at the place called Melambium in the territory of Scotusa, and Titus near the Thetideum in the territory of Pharsalus, still unaware of each other.

Then a storm of rain and tremendous thunder came on, and it happened that the whole mass of air from the clouds settled down upon the earth the next day, just before dawn, so that on account of the darkness that fell over everything men could not even see what was at their feet.

Nevertheless, Philip, eager to carry out his purpose, broke camp and advanced with his whole army.

But being hampered on the march by the fog, after covering a short distance he led his force into a palisaded camp and sent off his outpost force, with orders to seize the summits of the hills lying in between.

Chapter 21 The Macedonians Send for Help

Titus, encamped near the temple of Thetis and at a loss as to where exactly the enemy might be, sent out ten squadrons of cavalry along with about a thousand light-armed troops, urging them to advance and scout the countryside with caution.

As these men pressed forward toward the ridges, they blundered without realizing it into the Macedonian outpost, because the daylight was too dim to see clearly.

At first both sides were thrown into confusion for a short while, but soon they began to test one another, and each party also sent messengers back to their own commanders to report what had happened.

When, in the course of the clash, the Romans were being worn down and were suffering badly at the hands of the Macedonian outpost, they sent to their own camp to ask for reinforcements.

Titus then gave a brief exhortation to the Aetolians under Archedamus and Eupolemus, as well as to two of his own tribunes, and dispatched them with five hundred cavalry and two thousand infantry.

When these troops joined the men who had been skirmishing from the start, the engagement immediately took on the opposite character.

For the Romans, taking fresh heart from the hope this relief gave them, threw themselves into the fight with twice the vigor, while the Macedonians, though they defended themselves bravely, were now in their turn hard pressed and overwhelmed on every side. They fell back to the heights and sent to the king for help.

Chapter 22 Skirmishes Before the Main Battle

Philip, who for the reasons already given had never expected a full-scale engagement to occur that day, happened to have sent a large part of his men out of camp to forage.

But when he learned from the messengers what was happening, and as the mist was now beginning to clear, he gave his orders and sent out Heracleides of Gyrton, who commanded the Thessalian cavalry, and Leon, the commander of the Macedonian horse, and with them Athenagoras at the head of all the mercenaries except the Thracians.

When these forces joined the men at the outposts, and the Macedonians were thus reinforced by a powerful body, they bore down hard on the enemy and once again drove the Romans back from the heights, reversing the situation.

What chiefly prevented them from routing the enemy outright was the determined spirit of the Aetolian cavalry, who fought with great fury and reckless daring.

For the Aetolians, to the same degree that they fall short in their infantry—both in equipment and in formation for full-scale battles—surpass the other Greeks in cavalry when it comes to fighting in detached actions and individual combat.

And so on this occasion, since these men checked the enemy's onset, the Romans were no longer driven all the way back to the level ground, but after withdrawing only a short distance they wheeled about and stood their ground.

When Titus saw that not only his light infantry and cavalry had given way, but that because of them his whole force was becoming unsettled, he led out his entire army and drew it up close to the hills.

At that same moment, one Macedonian after another came running from the outpost to Philip, shouting: "King, the enemy are fleeing! Do not let the chance slip by. The barbarians cannot stand against us. This is your day; this is your moment!" So the result was that Philip, although he was not pleased with the ground, was nevertheless drawn into the engagement. For the hills just mentioned are called Cynoscephalae; they are rough and broken and rise to a considerable height.

For this reason Philip, foreseeing how unsuitable the terrain was, had at the outset been entirely unwilling to commit to battle there; but now, spurred on by the excessive confidence of those bringing the reports, he gave the order to lead his army out of the camp.

Chapter 23 Flamininus Rouses His Troops

Titus, having drawn up his whole army in succession, at one and the same time supported the men fighting in the vanguard and went along the ranks encouraging his troops. His exhortation was brief, but it was vivid and well understood by those who heard it. For pointing plainly to the enemy before their eyes, he said to his soldiers:

“Are these not the very Macedonians, men, whom you—when they held the passes into Eordaea in their own Macedonia—drove off from that commanding ground in open battle under Sulpicius, killing many of them?

Are these not the Macedonians whom you, when they held the seemingly hopeless rough country of Epirus, forced out by your own valor and compelled to throw away their weapons and flee, until they had made their way back into Macedonia?

Why then should you feel any fear, when you are about to fight on equal terms against these same men? Why dwell anxiously on what has gone before, instead of taking from those very events the opposite lesson and feeling confident now?

Therefore, men, urge one another on and charge into the fight with all your strength. For if the gods are willing, I am convinced that this present battle will swiftly come to the same end as the engagements that have gone before.”

Having spoken thus, he ordered the right wing to remain in position with the elephants in front of it, while with the left wing, supported by the light infantry, he advanced boldly against the enemy.

And the Romans fighting in the vanguard, now reinforced by the supporting infantry legions, wheeled about and bore down on their opponents.

Chapter 24 The Battle of Cynoscephalae

Meanwhile Philip, when he saw that the greater part of his own army had now taken up position in front of the camp, personally took the peltasts and the right wing of the phalanx and advanced, making a swift climb up the hills.

He gave instructions to Nicanor, nicknamed “the Elephant,” to see that the remaining part of the army followed close behind, step by step.

As soon as his leading files reached the crest of the ridge, he at once deployed them into line by the left and seized the high ground in advance. For since the Macedonians who had been fighting in the vanguard had pushed the Romans well down the far slopes of the hills, he found the heights unoccupied.

But while he was still bringing the right wing of his army into line, the mercenaries came back, hard pressed and overpowered by the enemy.

For when the heavy-armed troops joined the Roman light infantry—as I said just now—and supported them in the fighting, the Romans, gaining as it were a decisive counterweight in this assistance, pressed heavily on the enemy and killed many of them.

The king, at the start when he was first arriving, was overjoyed when he saw the light infantry engagement taking place not far from the enemy’s camp.

But when he saw the tide turn and his own men giving way and in need of help, he was forced to come to their aid and to stake everything on the moment, even though the greater part of his phalanx was still on the march and only now climbing the hills.

Receiving the men who had been engaged, he gathered them all onto the right wing, both infantry and cavalry, and ordered the peltasts and the phalangites to double their depth and close up their ranks toward the right. When this had been done, and as the enemy were now coming to close quarters, the order was given to the phalangites to lower their pikes and advance, and to the light infantry to extend the flank.

At the same moment Titus, after receiving his vanguard troops into the gaps between the maniples, launched his attack on the enemy.

Chapter 25 The Battle

When the two sides collided with great force and an overwhelming roar—both armies raising their war cry together, while those outside the fighting shouted encouragement to the combatants—the scene was terrifying and charged with the tension of struggle.

Philip's right wing was faring brilliantly in the engagement, since it was making its charge from higher ground, was superior in the sheer weight of its formation, and held a great advantage in the nature of its equipment, which suited the present circumstances.

But as for the rest of his forces, the part next to those already engaged was still at a distance from the enemy, while the part on the left wing, having only just completed the climb over the heights, was just coming into view on the ridges.

Titus, seeing that his own men could not withstand the charge of the phalanx but were being crushed on the left wing—some already dead, the rest slowly giving ground and retreating—and that what hopes of survival remained lay with his right, quickly rode over to that wing. Observing that of the enemy's force one part, adjoining those fighting, [...], another was at that very moment descending from the heights, and another was still posted up on the heights, he put the elephants in front and led the standards against the enemy.

The Macedonians, having no one to give them orders and unable to close up and assume the phalanx's proper formation—both because of the difficulty of the terrain and because, in following those already engaged, they were in the disposition of a marching column rather than a battle line— did not even let the Romans come to close quarters with them, but, panicked by the elephants alone and torn apart, they gave way.

Chapter 26 Philip's Defeat and Flight

Most of the Romans, then, pursued these men and cut them down.

But one of the military tribunes who were with them, having no more than twenty maniples, made up his own mind at the critical moment what needed to be done, and so contributed greatly to the overall victory.

Seeing that Philip's division had pushed far ahead of the rest and was bearing down with its weight upon the Roman left, he left the men on the right, who were by now plainly winning, wheeled around against those still fighting, came up behind, and charged the Macedonians in the rear.

Since it is impossible for phalanx troops to wheel about and defend themselves man by man, he pressed hard, killing those in his path, who were unable to help themselves, until the Macedonians were forced to throw down their arms and flee—for the troops they had been facing, who had been giving ground, now turned about and joined in the attack on them. Philip, in the early stages, as I have said, judging from the success of his own part of the field, was convinced he was winning a complete victory.

But when he suddenly saw the Macedonians flinging away their arms and the enemy attacking their rear, he withdrew a short way from the danger with a few cavalry and infantry and surveyed the whole situation.

Realizing that the Romans, in their pursuit of his left wing, were already drawing close to the heights, he turned to flight, gathering on the spur of the moment as many Thracians and Macedonians as he could.

Titus, following the fugitives and coming upon the left-wing units of the Macedonians just as they were reaching the heights in the passes, at first [...] halted, since the enemy held their pikes upright— which is the custom of the Macedonians whenever they surrender or go over to the other side.

Afterward, on learning the reason for what was happening, he held back his men, deciding to spare those who had lost heart.

But while Titus was still considering this, some of the men in his vanguard fell upon them from higher ground, laid hands on them, and killed most of them; only a few escaped by throwing away their arms.

Chapter 27 Philip Retreats, the Romans Plunder

With the battle now brought to an end on every part of the field and the Romans victorious, Philip began his retreat toward Tempe.

The first night he camped near the so-called Tower of Alexander; the next day he advanced to Gonni, at the entrance of the pass into Tempe, and there waited, wishing to take in those who came through safe from the rout.

The Romans, after pursuing the fugitives a certain distance, turned back: some set about stripping the dead, others gathering up the prisoners, but the majority rushed off to plunder the enemy's camp.

There they found that the Aetolians had got there first, and, thinking they had been robbed of the spoils that were rightly theirs, they began to find fault with the Aetolians and to complain to their general that he assigned the dangers to them but had handed the spoils over to others.

For the moment they returned to their own encampment and bivouacked there. The next day they both collected the prisoners and what was left of the spoils and marched on toward Larisa.

The Romans lost about seven hundred men; of the Macedonians, all told some eight thousand died, and no fewer than five thousand were taken alive.

Such was the outcome of the battle fought in Thessaly at Cynoscephalae between the Romans and Philip.

Chapter 28 The Macedonian Phalanx

In my sixth book I left standing a promise that, when a suitable occasion arose, I would draw a comparison between the equipment of the Romans and the Macedonians and likewise between the tactical systems of each, showing in what respects they are worse and in what respects better than one another. Now, on the basis of the actual events, I will try to carry that promise through to completion.

For since in earlier times the Macedonian system, proving itself through its very deeds, prevailed over the systems of Asia and of Greece, while that of the Romans prevailed over all the nations of Africa and of western Europe, and since in our own times there has been not just one but repeated trials of strength between these formations and these men against one another, it would be both useful and worthwhile to investigate the difference, and to ask why it is that the Romans win and carry off the prize in the contests of war, so that we do not, like the foolish among men, merely speak of fortune and congratulate the victors without reason, but, knowing the true causes, may give the Roman commanders the praise and admiration they rightly deserve.

As for the contests the Romans fought against Hannibal and the defeats they suffered in them, there is no need to say more: it was not because of their equipment, nor their tactical system, but because of Hannibal's resourcefulness and shrewdness that they met with those reverses.

This we made clear in our account of the battles themselves.

Our argument is supported, first, by the conclusion of the war: for once the Romans got a general whose ability matched Hannibal's, victory soon followed upon what has just been said.

And second, Hannibal himself, rejecting the equipment his men had had from the start, immediately after his victory in the first battle armed his own forces with Roman weapons, and continued to use these for the rest of the time.

Pyrrhus, too, made use not only of Italian arms but also of Italian troops, placing a maniple and a company of his phalanx alternately in his battles against the Romans.

Yet even so he could not win; somehow the outcomes of his engagements always turned out doubtful for them.

It was necessary to say these things first, so that nothing should appear to contradict my conclusions. Now I return to the comparison before me.

Chapter 29 A Well-Formed Phalanx is Irresistible

It is easy to gather from many considerations that, so long as the phalanx keeps its peculiar character and full strength, nothing can stand against it face to face or hold its ground against its charge.

For each man, with his weapons, occupies a space of three feet when the ranks are closed up for battle, and the length of the sarissa, by its original design, is sixteen cubits—though in its actual, practical adjustment, fourteen.

Of these fourteen, four are taken up by the gap between the soldier's two hands and by the counterweight of the shaft behind, which balances the part thrust forward.

It is clear, then, that the sarissa must project ten cubits in front of the body of each hoplite whenever he advances against the enemy with the weapon leveled in both hands.

The result is that the sarissae of the second, third, and fourth ranks reach farther forward than those of the fifth, but even the fifth rank's sarissae project two cubits beyond the men in the front rank—provided the phalanx keeps its proper character and density, closed up both from front to rear and side to side, as Homer suggests in these lines:

Shield pressed on shield, helmet on helmet, man on man; the horsehair crests on their bright ridges touched as the men bent forward—so closely did they stand, packed against one another.

And if this is described truly and rightly, it is clear that in front of each man in the front rank five sarissae must project, each differing from the next by two cubits in length.

Chapter 30 Roman Soldiers in More Open Order

From this it is easy to picture the charge and the leveled line of the whole phalanx—what it is likely to look like and how much force it has—formed sixteen deep.

Of these ranks, all those beyond the fifth cannot bring their sarissae to bear in the fighting. For this reason they do not level them man by man for the thrust, but hold them tilted upward over the shoulders of the men in front of them, in order to protect the upper part of the formation; for, by the dense mass of their sarissae, they ward off any missiles that, flying over the front ranks, might fall upon the men behind.

These rear men, moreover, by the sheer weight of their bodies pressing forward during the advance, push against those ahead of them. This makes the charge irresistible and makes it impossible for the front ranks to turn back.

Such being the arrangement of the phalanx, both as a whole and in its parts, we must now describe, by way of comparison, the special features and differences of the Roman equipment and of their whole order of battle.

The Romans, too, stand with their weapons in a space of three feet.

But since in their style of fighting each man moves individually—covering his body with the long shield, which he shifts constantly to meet the point from which a blow is coming, and fighting with the sword by cutting and thrusting—it is obvious that the men need a loose, open interval of at least three feet from one another, both front to rear and side to side, if they are to be effective for what is needed.

The result is that one Roman stands opposite two of the phalangites in the front rank, so that he faces and fights against ten sarissae.

Once the lines have closed to hand-to-hand fighting, it is impossible for one man to cut through all these in time, nor is it easy to force a way past them—especially since the rear ranks of the Romans can contribute nothing to the men in front, neither for added force nor for the work of their swords.

From all this it is easy to see that, as I said at the start, nothing can withstand the charge of the phalanx face to face so long as it keeps its peculiar character and strength.

Chapter 31 Cumbrous Nature of the Phalanx

What, then, is the cause of the Romans' victories, and what brings ruin on those who rely on the phalanx?

It is that in war the times and places for action are not fixed, whereas for the phalanx there is only one suitable time and one kind of ground on which it can do its work.

Now if there were some necessity compelling the enemy to come down to the time and place that suit the phalanx whenever a decisive engagement was at hand, it would be reasonable—by the argument just given—to expect that those who use the phalanx would always win the day.

But if the enemy can avoid this, and do so easily, how can the formation just described remain anything to fear?

Moreover, it is agreed that the phalanx needs ground that is level and clear, with no obstacles upon it—I mean such things as ditches, gullies, ravines, ridges, and riverbeds.

For all the things just mentioned are enough to break up and dissolve such a formation.

And that it is practically impossible—or, failing that, altogether rare—to find ground extending sometimes twenty stades, sometimes even more, with no such obstacle, everyone would also admit.

But suppose such ground has been found. If the enemy will not come down into it, but instead march around plundering the cities and territory of the allies, what use is a formation of this kind?

For if it stays on the ground suited to itself, it cannot help its friends—indeed, it cannot even save itself.

The convoys of its supplies will easily be cut off by the enemy, who hold the open country unopposed; while if it leaves its own ground in order to take some action, it will be easy prey for the enemy.

Chapter 32 How the Romans Fight Against a Phalanx

And further, even if a general does come down into level ground, but does not commit his whole army at once to a single charge of the phalanx and one decisive moment, but holds back from battle even briefly at the very moment of the engagement, it is easy to foresee what will follow from what the Romans now do. For there is no longer any need to judge what I am saying by argument; it can be judged from what has already happened.

The Romans do not make their line equal in length to the enemy's and then engage all their forces at once, front to front, against the phalanxes. Instead, part of their forces is held in reserve, while part closes with the enemy.

Then, whether the phalangites press back the men attacking them, or are themselves pressed back, in either case the phalanx's peculiar order is broken.

For whether pursuing those who give way or fleeing from those who press on, they leave behind the remaining parts of their own army; and once this happens, the enemy's reserves are given the gap and the very ground that the phalangites had been holding. They no longer need to attack from the front, but can fall in upon the phalangites' flank and rear.

When it is easy to guard against the phalanx's strong points and advantages, but impossible to guard against its weaknesses, how can the difference between the two systems fail to be great in actual practice?

Furthermore, those who use the phalanx must march through country of every kind and pitch camp; they must seize favorable positions in advance, besiege others and be besieged themselves, and meet with unexpected appearances of the enemy.

For all these are parts of war, and they tip the scales toward victory—sometimes wholly, sometimes greatly.

In all of these the Macedonian system is awkward, and at times useless, because the phalangite can be of service neither in a unit nor as an individual. The Roman system, by contrast, is highly serviceable.

For every Roman, once he has armed himself and set out for action, is equally adapted to any place, any time, and any emergency.

He is, moreover, ready and in the same fit condition whether he has to fight together with the whole army, or with part of it, or in a single maniple, or even by himself.

Therefore, since the Roman system is so far superior in usefulness down to the smallest part, its outcomes too follow the Romans' intentions far more reliably than those of others.

I thought it necessary to discuss this matter at some length, both because at the very time it happened many of the Greeks, when the Macedonians were defeated, regarded the event as beyond belief, and because afterward many would be at a loss to understand why and how the phalanx formation is inferior to the Roman style of arming.

Chapter 33 Philip's Conduct After the Battle

Philip, having done everything he could in the battle but having been utterly defeated, took up as many of the survivors from the fighting as he could and set off himself through the Vale of Tempe into Macedonia.

On the night before his departure, however, he sent one of his bodyguards to Larisa with orders to destroy and burn the royal correspondence. In this he acted as a king should, not forgetting his duty even in the midst of catastrophe.

For he knew well that, if the Romans got hold of these records, they would furnish them with many pretexts against both himself and his friends.

It has perhaps already happened to others, too, that they could not bear their power with human moderation in times of success, yet in times of reversal stood firm with caution and good sense; but this was true above all in Philip's case. This will become clear from what I am about to relate.

For just as I clearly set out his early impulses toward what was right, and again his change for the worse—when, why, and how it came about—and gave a documented account of his actions during that period, in the same way I must now make plain his change of heart and the good judgment with which he adapted to the setbacks dealt him by fortune and seems to have made the most prudent use of the circumstances that confronted him.

As for Titus, after the battle he made the appropriate arrangements regarding the prisoners and the rest of the spoils, and then proceeded toward Larisa. —

Chapter 34 Flamininus and the Aetolians At Odds

[...] in general, by the greed of the Aetolians over the spoils [...] or because he did not wish, having driven Philip from power, to leave the Aetolians as masters of the Greeks.

He was also irritated by their boastfulness, when he saw them claiming the victory as their own and filling Greece with reports of their valor.

For this reason he met them more haughtily in their dealings and kept silent with them about public affairs, while he carried through the business at hand either by himself or through his own friends.

While this mutual friction prevailed, after some days envoys arrived from Philip—Demosthenes, Cycliadas, and Limnaeus.

After conferring with them at length together with his military tribunes, Titus at once arranged a fifteen-day armistice, and also agreed to meet personally with Philip during that period to discuss the existing situation.

And since this meeting was conducted in a friendly spirit, the suspicions against Titus blazed up twice as fiercely.

For by now bribery had become rampant throughout Greece, and no one did anything for free; and since this practice was the accepted standard among the Aetolians, they could not believe that so great a change in Titus's attitude toward Philip had come about without bribes— not knowing the Roman customs and principles in this regard, but judging and reasoning from their own conduct, they concluded that Philip would, given the crisis, naturally offer a large sum of money, and that Titus would be unable to resist it.

Chapter 35 Comparative Incorruptibility of Romans

As for me, had I been speaking of earlier times, I would have confidently made a general pronouncement about all Romans, that they would do no such thing—I mean before they undertook wars overseas, while they still abided by their own customs and principles.

In the present age, however, I would not dare to say this of them all; yet privately I would venture to declare of a good many men at Rome that they are able to keep their integrity in this respect.

By way of evidence, two universally acknowledged names [...] so that I may not seem to be claiming the impossible.

Take Lucius Aemilius, the man who defeated Perseus: when he became master of the Macedonian kingdom—where, apart from all its other furnishings and resources, more than six thousand talents of silver and gold were found in the treasuries alone— so far from coveting any of it, he refused even to set eyes on it and had others handle the matter, even though in his own life he was by no means well supplied with means but rather fell short.

At any rate, when he died not long after the war, his sons by birth, Publius Scipio and Quintus Maximus, wanted to repay his wife her dowry of twenty-five talents; and they were so hard-pressed

that they could not have managed it at all had they not sold off the household goods, the slaves, and on top of these some of the property as well.

And if to anyone this account should seem incredible, it is easy to gain assurance on the point: for although many things are disputed among the Romans, especially on this very matter because of their rivalries with one another, nevertheless anyone who inquires will find that what I have just said is agreed upon by all.

Then again there is Publius Scipio, the son by birth of this Aemilius and the grandson by adoption of Publius called the Great: when he gained possession of Carthage—reckoned the wealthiest city in the world—he took absolutely nothing from it into his private estate, neither by purchase nor by acquiring anything in any other way, even though he was not at all well off in life but only of modest means, as Romans go.

And not only did he keep clear of the wealth of Carthage itself, but he allowed nothing whatever from Africa to be mingled with his private property.

Once more, in the case of this man too, anyone who genuinely inquires will find his reputation on this point undisputed among the Romans.

Chapter 36 Congress at Tempe Begins

But on these matters I will take a more fitting occasion to enlarge at greater length. Titus, having fixed a day to meet Philip, wrote at once to the allies, making clear when they should appear at the conference; and he himself, after some days, came to the pass of Tempe at the appointed time.

When the allies had gathered and a council had been formed from their own number, the Roman general rose and called on each to state the terms on which peace should be made with Philip.

King Amynandros, then, spoke briefly and moderately and ended his remarks: he asked that they all take thought for him, so that, once the Romans had withdrawn from Greece, Philip would not vent his anger upon him; for the Athamanians, he said, were always easy prey for the Macedonians, owing both to their weakness and to the nearness of their territory.

After him Alexander the Aetolian rose. As to the fact that Titus had assembled the allies to deliberate about the settlement and was now inviting each to state his view, he praised Titus; but on the whole matter he said Titus was mistaken and going astray if he was convinced that by coming to terms with Philip he would leave either peace secure for the Romans or freedom secure for the Greeks—for neither of these was possible.

Rather, if he wished to fulfill both his country's purpose and the personal promises he had made to all the Greeks, there was, he said, only one settlement to be made with the Macedonians: to drive Philip from power.

And this would be quite easy to do, provided he did not let the present opportunity slip by.

After arguing at greater length in support of this proposal, he ended his speech.

Chapter 37 Debate In the Congress At Tempe

Titus then took up the argument and said that Alexander was wide of the mark—not only regarding Rome's policy, but also regarding his own intentions, and above all regarding the true interests of the Greeks.

For the Romans, he said, did not utterly destroy those against whom they had first gone to war.

Proof of this claim could be found in their dealings with Hannibal and the Carthaginians: although the Romans had suffered the most terrible things at their hands, and afterward had it fully in their power to do whatever they wished against them, they nonetheless adopted no irreparable measures against the Carthaginians.

And in fact, he himself had never held the view that one must wage war against Philip without any possibility of settlement; on the contrary, had Philip been willing to do what was demanded of him before the battle, Titus would readily have come to terms with him.

He said, therefore, that he was amazed that men who had all taken part at that time in the conferences about a settlement should now be so utterly implacable.

"Or is it obviously because we have won? But that is the most senseless reasoning of all.

For good men ought, while at war, to be formidable and full of fight; when defeated, noble and high-minded; but when victorious, moderate, gentle, and humane. Yet you are now urging the very opposite.

Moreover, it is in the Greeks' own interest that the power of Macedon be greatly humbled, but by no means that it be removed altogether,"

—for they might soon enough come to learn the lawless violence of the Thracians and Gauls; this, he said, had already happened more than once.

In sum, he declared that he and the Romans present judged that, if Philip undertook to do everything the allies had previously demanded, they would grant him peace, subject also to the approval of the Senate; but the Aetolians were free to decide for themselves about their own affairs.

After this Phaeneas wanted to argue that everything done before would be in vain, since Philip, if he slipped through the present crisis, would soon make this the starting point for fresh troubles all over again; but Titus, on the spot from his seat and heatedly, said: "Stop your nonsense, Phaeneas. For I will manage the settlement in such a way that Philip, even should he wish it, will be unable to wrong the Greeks."

Chapter 38 Philip Comes to the Conference

And so on these terms they parted for the day. On the next day the king arrived, and on the third, when everyone had gathered for the conference, Philip came in and skillfully and shrewdly cut short the hostility of all of them.

For he said that he conceded and would carry out everything that the Romans and the allies had previously demanded, and that on the remaining points he would refer the decision to the Senate.

When he had said this, all the rest fell silent, but Phaeneas of the Aetolians said: "Why then, Philip, do you not restore to us Larisa Cremaste, Pharsalus, Phthiotic Thebes, and Echinus?"

Philip told them to go ahead and take them over, but Titus said they should take none of the others—only Phthiotic Thebes; for when he had approached the Thebans with his army and called on them to entrust themselves to Rome's protection, they had refused. Therefore now, he said, since they had been subdued in war, he had the authority to deal with them as he saw fit.

Phaeneas and his party were indignant and argued that the cities ought to be theirs: first, because they had now fought alongside the Romans, they should recover the cities that had formerly belonged to their league; and second, in accordance with their original treaty of alliance, by which, of whatever was captured in war, the movable goods were to be the Romans' and the cities the Aetolians'. To this Titus replied that they were mistaken on both counts.

For the alliance had been dissolved at the time when they made their settlement with Philip and abandoned the Romans; and even if the alliance were still in force, they were entitled to recover and take over not any cities that had voluntarily put themselves under Rome's protection—as all the cities in Thessaly had now done—but only those that had been taken by storm.

Chapter 39 Peace Terms Agreed On

The rest of the congress was pleased with what Titus said, but the Aetolians heard it with resentment, and there was being born what proved to be the beginning of great evils.

For out of this dispute and this spark there blazed up, not long afterward, both the war against the Aetolians and the war against Antiochus.

The decisive factor in Titus's eagerness to come to terms was that he had learned that Antiochus had set out from Syria with an army, directing his advance toward Europe.

For this reason he was anxious that Philip, fastening on this hope, might decide to hold his cities and drag out the war, and that then, when another consul arrived, the credit for the whole achievement might be deflected onto that man.

So it was conceded to the king, as he requested, that upon obtaining a four-month armistice he should at once give Titus the two hundred talents and his son Demetrius as a hostage, along with some others

of his friends, and that concerning the whole settlement he should send envoys to Rome and refer the decision to the Senate.

For the time being they then parted, having given each other pledges about the whole matter, on the condition that, if the terms of the settlement were not ratified, Titus would return to Philip the two hundred talents and the hostages.

After this everyone sent envoys to Rome, some to support and others to oppose the settlement.—

Chapter 40 Foolish Credulity

Why on earth is it that, though we are all deceived by the same means and by the same people, we cannot give up our folly?

For this kind of trickery has already been practiced often by many.

And that it should succeed among others is perhaps not surprising; but it is astonishing that it should succeed against those who are themselves the very source of such knavery.

The cause, however, is that men do not keep ready at hand the saying so well put by Epicharmus:

“Stay sober and remember to distrust: these are the joints of the mind.”—

Medion, a city near Aetolia.

Polybius, Book Eighteen.

Chapter 41 Asia: King Attalus I

Polybius says in his eighteenth book: Attalus came to the end of his life. Concerning him it is right—just as we are accustomed to do in the case of others—now to add a fitting word as well.

For from the start he possessed no other external advantage toward kingship than wealth alone—which, when managed with intelligence and daring, truly provides great usefulness toward every undertaking, but, without the qualities just mentioned, by its nature becomes for most people a cause of evils and, in a word, of ruin.

For it breeds both envy and conspiracies, and it carries the greatest tendencies toward the corruption of body and soul. Very few indeed are the souls that are able by the power of wealth to thrust such things away.

Therefore the greatness of spirit of the man we are speaking of is worthy of admiration, because he set out to use his resources for nothing else but the winning of a kingdom, than which nothing greater or nobler can even be named— a man who laid the foundation of the design just mentioned not only through generosity and goodwill toward his friends, but also through his achievements in war.

For after defeating the Galatians in battle—the most formidable and most warlike nation in Asia at that time—he made this his beginning and then for the first time showed himself a king.

Having obtained this honor and lived seventy-two years, of which he reigned forty-four, he lived a most temperate and dignified life toward his wife and children; he kept faith with all his allies and friends, and he died in the very midst of the noblest of deeds, while struggling for the freedom of the Greeks.

And greatest of all, having left four sons in the prime of life, he so well ordered the affairs of his realm that the kingdom was handed down to his children's children without a single dispute.

Chapter 41a Antiochus Covets Ephesus

[...] to prevent Antiochus from sailing along the coast, not out of hostility toward him, but because they feared that, if he strengthened Philip, he would become an obstacle to the freedom of the Greeks.

King Antiochus was especially eager to gain Ephesus because of its strategic position: it seemed to give him, by land and by sea alike, a commanding post against Ionia and the cities on the Hellespont, and for the kings of Asia it offered an exceptionally useful defensive base against Europe.

Chapter 42 Italy: Treaty with Philip Confirmed

When Claudius Marcellus had taken up the consulship, there came to Rome the envoys from Philip and those from Titus and the allies, to deal with the treaty with Philip.

After much discussion in the Senate, the Senate resolved to confirm the agreement; but when the proposal was brought before the people, Marcus—himself eager to cross over into Greece—spoke against it and made great efforts to break off the treaty.

Nevertheless, the people, in accordance with the policy of Titus, ratified the settlement.

Once this had been carried out, the Senate immediately appointed ten men of distinction and sent them out, together with Titus, to manage the affairs of Greece and to confirm to the Greeks their freedom.

The envoys from the Achaeans, Damoxenus of Aegium and his colleagues, also made representations in the Senate concerning an alliance; but since objection was raised for the moment—because the Eleians were disputing with the Achaeans over Triphylia, the Messenians (who were then allies of the Romans) over Asine and Pylus, and the Aetolians over the city of the Heraeans—the deliberation was deferred to the ten commissioners.

Such, then, was the state of affairs in the Senate.

Chapter 43 Greece: Murder of Brachylles

In Greece, after the battle, while Titus was wintering at Elateia, the Boeotians, being eager to bring back the men of theirs who had served in Philip's army, sent an embassy to Titus concerning their safe return.

Wishing to draw the Boeotians toward goodwill for himself—because he was already looking ahead to Antiochus—he readily consented.

When all had quickly been brought back from Macedonia, among them Brachylles, the Boeotians at once made him a boeotarch, and in like manner they honored and advanced the others who were thought to be friends of the house of Macedon no less than before.

They also sent an embassy to Philip to thank him for the return of the young men, thereby spoiling the favor done by Titus.

Observing this, Zeuxippus and Peisistratus and all who were regarded as friends of the Romans were distressed, foreseeing what was to come and fearing for themselves and their families; for they knew clearly that, if the Romans withdrew from Greece while Philip remained at their flank, constantly lending strength to those who opposed them politically, their position in Boeotian public life would be in no way safe.

Therefore, having come to an understanding among themselves, they sent an embassy to Titus at Elateia.

Meeting with him, they put forward many and varied arguments on this matter, pointing out the popular feeling that was now already directed against them and the ingratitude of the masses.

And at last they ventured to say that, unless they did away with Brachylles and overawed the multitude, there would be no safety for the friends of the Romans once the armies had departed.

When Titus had heard all this, he said that he himself would not take part in this deed, but that he would not prevent those who wished to act; and in general he told them to speak about these matters with Alexamenus, the general of the Aetolians.

When Zeuxippus and his colleagues complied and held discussions with him, the said Alexamenus was quickly persuaded and, agreeing to what was proposed, assigned three Aetolian and three Italian young men to lay hands on Brachylles.

For there is no witness so fearsome, nor any accuser so formidable, as the conscience that dwells in each man's soul.

Chapter 44 Decree of the Senate on the Peace with Philip

At about this time the ten commissioners arrived from Rome, through whom the affairs of the Greeks were to be managed, bringing the decree of the Senate concerning the peace with Philip.

The main provisions of the decree were these: that all the other Greeks, both those in Asia and those in Europe, should be free and use their own laws; that those subject to Philip, and the garrisoned cities, Philip should hand over to the Romans before the festival of the Isthmian games; that he should set free Euromus, Pedasa, Bargylia, and the city of the Iaseans, and likewise Abydos, Thasos, Myrina, and Perinthus, removing his garrisons from them; that concerning the liberation of the Cians, Titus should write to Prusias in accordance with the decree of the Senate; that Philip should restore to the Romans, within the same period, all the captives and all the deserters, and likewise the decked warships, except for five vessels and the sixteen-banked ship; and that he should also pay a thousand talents, half of these at once, and half in installments over ten years.

Chapter 45 The Freedom of Greece

When this decree had been made known throughout Greece, everyone else was confident and overjoyed; only the Aetolians, vexed at not obtaining what they had hoped for, ran the decree down, claiming that it had substance only on paper and not in fact.

And from the very wording of the document they drew certain plausible arguments to unsettle those who would listen to them, such as the following.

They said that there were two distinct provisions in the decree concerning the cities garrisoned by Philip: one ordering Philip to withdraw his garrisons and hand the cities over to the Romans, and the other ordering him to withdraw his garrisons and set the cities free.

Now the cities to be set free, they argued, were specified by name, and these were the ones in Asia; while the cities to be handed over to the Romans were obviously those in Europe—namely Oreus, Eretria, Chalcis, Demetrias, and Corinth.

From this it should be plain to everyone that the Romans were taking over the “fetters of Greece” from Philip, and that what was happening was a change of masters, not a liberation of the Greeks.

This, then, was harped on incessantly by the Aetolians.

Titus, meanwhile, set out from Elatea with the ten commissioners, put in at Anticyra, and at once crossed over to Corinth; arriving there, he sat in council with them and deliberated about the whole settlement.

But since the Aetolians’ slander was spreading and was believed by some, Titus was compelled to make many varied arguments in the council, showing that, if they really wished to win for themselves the entire credit of the Greeks’ goodwill and to be universally trusted as having made their original crossing not for their own advantage but for the freedom of Greece, they would have to evacuate every position and set free all the cities now garrisoned by Philip.

This was the source of the deadlock in the council: with regard to all the other cities the matter had been settled beforehand at Rome and the ten commissioners had explicit instructions from the Senate, but in the case of Chalcis, Corinth, and Demetrias they had been given discretion on account of Antiochus, so that they might keep an eye on circumstances and decide about the cities just mentioned according to their own judgment; for it was clear that the aforementioned king had long been fixing his attention on affairs in Europe.

Nevertheless, Titus persuaded the council to free Corinth at once and put it into the hands of the Achaeans, in keeping with the original agreements, but he held on to the Acrocorinth, Demetrias, and Chalcis.

Chapter 46 Proclamation At the Isthmian Games

These decisions having been reached, the festival of the Isthmian games came round, and since the most distinguished men from nearly all the world had gathered in anticipation of how things would turn out, much varied talk circulated throughout the whole assembly.

Some claimed it was impossible for the Romans to give up certain places and cities; others determined that they would give up the places that seemed most prominent, but would keep those of lesser appearance that could nonetheless render the same service.

And they themselves at once pointed out which these places were, in their ingenious arguments with one another.

While people were in this state of uncertainty, and the crowd had gathered in the stadium for the contest, the herald came forward and, having called for silence by means of the trumpeter, proclaimed the following announcement:

“The Senate of Rome and Titus Quinctius, proconsul and commander, having defeated King Philip and the Macedonians in war, hereby set free, without garrison, without tribute, and governed by their ancestral laws, the following: the Corinthians, Phocians, Locrians, Euboeans, Phthiotic Achaeans, Magnesians, Thessalians, and Perrhaebians.”

At the very first words a tremendous burst of applause arose, so that some did not even hear the proclamation, while others wanted to hear it again.

The greater part of the people, disbelieving and seeming to hear what was said as if in a dream, so unexpected was the event, every one of them on a fresh impulse shouted for the herald and trumpeter to come out into the middle of the stadium and repeat the announcement—because, as it seems to me, the people wanted not only to hear but also to see the speaker, in their disbelief at what was being proclaimed.

But when the herald came forward into the center and, by means of the trumpeter, hushed the uproar, then announced exactly the same words as before, such an outburst of applause broke out that those

hearing of it now could scarcely grasp what it was like.

When at last the applause subsided, no one paid the slightest attention to the athletes any longer; everyone was talking, some to one another and some to themselves, as though they were out of their minds.

Indeed, after the contest, in the excess of their joy, they nearly killed Titus with their thanks: some wanting to look him in the face and hail him as their savior, some eager to grasp his right hand, and most of them throwing wreaths and ribbons upon him, until they very nearly tore the man to pieces.

And although this show of gratitude seems to have been excessive, one could say with confidence that it actually fell far short of the magnitude of the deed.

For it was a wonderful thing that the Romans, and their leader Titus, adopted this policy, undertaking every expense and every danger for the sake of the freedom of Greece; and it was a great thing too that they brought to bear a force equal to their resolve; but the greatest thing of all was that nothing in Fortune struck against their undertaking—rather, absolutely everything ran together to one favorable moment, so that by a single proclamation all the Greeks who inhabit Asia and those who inhabit Europe became free, without garrison and without tribute, living under their own laws.

Chapter 47 The Commissioners Make Detailed Arrangements

When the festival was over, the commissioners first dealt with the ambassadors from Antiochus, charging him to keep his hands off those cities in Asia that were autonomous and to make war on none of them, and to withdraw from all those formerly subject to Ptolemy and Philip that he had now taken over.

Along with this they warned him not to cross over into Europe with an army; for no Greek was henceforth to be made war upon by anyone or to be enslaved to anyone.

And in general, they said that some of their own number would come to visit Antiochus.

So Hegesianax and Lysias, having received these replies, returned; and after them the commissioners summoned all who had come from the nations and cities, and made plain to them the decisions of the council.

As for the Macedonians, they declared the people called the Orestae autonomous, because they had come over to the Roman side during the war, and they freed the Perrhaebians, the Dolopes, and the Magnesians.

To the Thessalians, along with their freedom, they also assigned the Phthiotic Achaeans, with the exception of Phthiotic Thebes and Pharsalus; for the Aetolians made a great point of their claim to Pharsalus, asserting that it ought to belong to them under the original treaties, and likewise to Leucas.

But the members of the council deferred the decision about these cities back to the Senate, to be settled with the Aetolians, while allowing them to keep the Phocians and Locrians within their league, just as they had held them before.

Corinth, Triphylia, and the city of the Heraeans they gave back to the Achaeans. Oreus, and also the city of the Eretrians, most of them thought should be given to Eumenes; but when Titus referred the matter to the council, the resolution was not ratified, and so after some time these cities, together with Carystus, were freed by the Senate.

They also gave to Pleuratus Lychnis and Parthus, which were Illyrian towns subject to Philip.

And they granted to Amynander the right to hold whatever strongholds of Philip's he had seized during the war.

Chapter 48 The Commissioners Carry Word Throughout Greece

Having settled these matters, the commissioners divided themselves up.

Publius Lentulus sailed to Bargylia and freed its people; Lucius Stertinius went to Hephaestia and Thasos and the cities along Thrace and did the same; Publius Villius and Lucius Terentius set off to visit Antiochus, while Gnaeus Cornelius and his colleagues went to King Philip.

Meeting him near Tempe, they discussed with him the other matters about which they had instructions, and advised him to send envoys to Rome to seek an alliance, so that he might not appear to be lying in wait for an opportunity and watching for the arrival of Antiochus.

When the king agreed to what they suggested, they parted from him at once and went to the assembly of the Thermica; and coming before the people, they urged the Aetolians at some length to remain faithful to their original policy and to preserve their goodwill toward the Romans.

Many came forward, some finding fault with the Romans in mild and measured terms for not having shared the fruits of success in a spirit of partnership, nor kept the original agreements, while others abused them, declaring that the Romans would never have set foot in Greece, nor defeated Philip, had it not been for the Aetolians themselves.

Gnaeus and his colleagues declined to make a defense against each of these charges, but urged them to send an embassy to Rome, on the grounds that they would obtain full justice from the Senate—which, being persuaded, they did.

And such was the outcome of the war against Philip.

Chapter 49 Asia: Roman Envoys To Antiochus

If, as the saying goes, they are driven to the very last extremity, they will take refuge with the Romans and put themselves and their city into Roman hands. —

While Antiochus' undertaking was advancing just as he wished, and Antiochus himself was present in Thrace, Lucius Cornelius and his colleagues put in by sea at Selymbria.

These men were envoys dispatched by the Senate to arrange the settlement between Antiochus and [Ptolemy]—

Chapter 50 Conference Between Roman Legates and Antiochus

At about the same time there also arrived three of the ten commissioners: Publius Lentulus from Bargylia, and Lucius Terentius and Publius Villius from Thasos.

When the king was quickly informed of their arrival, within a few days they all gathered together at Lysimacheia.

It also happened that Hegesianax and Lysias, who had been sent on the mission to Titus Flamininus, turned up at this same moment.

Now the private meetings between the king and the Romans were entirely cordial and friendly; but afterwards, when a general council was held to discuss the whole situation, affairs took on a very different character.

For Lucius Cornelius demanded that Antiochus withdraw from all the cities subject to Ptolemy that he had now seized in Asia, and he insisted earnestly that he likewise give up those subject to Philip; for it was absurd, he said, that Antiochus should step in and take over the prizes of the war which the Romans had fought against Philip.

He further urged him to keep his hands off the autonomous cities.

And in general he said he was astonished on what grounds Antiochus had made his crossing into Europe with such great land forces and such great naval forces; for, apart from the supposition that he intended to attack the Romans, no other explanation remained to anyone who reasoned correctly.

Chapter 51 The King's Reply

With these words the Romans finished speaking. The king began his reply by saying that, first of all, he was at a loss to understand on what grounds they were disputing with him over the cities of Asia; for it befitted anyone in the world rather than the Romans to do so.

Secondly, he asked that they not meddle at all in the affairs of Asia, since he, for his part, did not in the slightest interfere with the affairs of Italy.

He had crossed into Europe with his forces, he said, in order to recover the Chersonese and the cities of Thrace; for the rule over these regions belonged to him more rightfully than to anyone else.

For this dominion had originally been that of Lysimachus, but when Seleucus made war on him and prevailed in that war, the whole kingdom of Lysimachus passed to Seleucus as spear-won territory.

Then, during the periods when his own ancestors were distracted by other concerns, first Ptolemy and then Philip had torn these regions away and appropriated them for themselves.

He himself, however, was now not acquiring them by exploiting Philip's difficulties, but recovering them by exercising his own just claims.

As for the people of Lysimacheia, who had been unexpectedly driven from their homes by the Thracians, he was doing the Romans no wrong in bringing them back and resettling them; for in doing this, he said, his aim was not to lay hands on the Romans, but to prepare a dwelling-place for his son Seleucus.

As for the autonomous cities of Asia, they ought to obtain their freedom not by a command from the Romans, but by his own favor.

And with regard to Ptolemy, he said that he himself would settle matters to that king's satisfaction; for he had resolved to establish with him not merely friendship, but, along with friendship, a tie of kinship as well.

Chapter 52 Antiochus Demands a Rhodian Court

When Lucius and his colleagues took the view that the representatives of the Lampsacenes and the Smyrnaeans ought to be called in and given a hearing, this was done.

Present on behalf of the Lampsacenes were Parmenio and Pythodorus, and on behalf of the Smyrnaeans, Coeranus. As these men spoke their minds freely, the king grew annoyed at the appearance of having to defend himself before the Romans against those who were contesting matters with him, and, cutting Parmenio short, he said:

"Have done with all this talk; for it is not before the Romans, but before the Rhodians, that I am willing to have our disputed points decided."

And so, on these terms, they broke up the meeting, by no means satisfied with one another.

Chapter 53 Egypt: Fall of Scopas

Many people long for bold and glorious exploits, but few dare actually to lay a hand on them.

And yet Scopas had far finer resources than Cleomenes for taking such a risk and showing such daring.

For Cleomenes was caught in advance and shut up to rely solely on the hopes he could place in his own household servants and friends; yet even so he did not abandon those hopes, but tested them to the utmost of his power, valuing an honorable death above a life lived in disgrace.

Scopas, on the other hand, although he had both a strong arm to help him and the right opportunity—since the king was still a child—was caught while he was still hesitating and deliberating.

For when Aristomenes and his men learned that he was gathering his friends at his own house and holding council with them, they sent some of the royal guards to summon him to the council.

But he was so out of his wits that he neither dared to carry out any of his next steps nor, when summoned by the king, was able to bring himself to obey—which is the most extreme failing of all—until Aristomenes and his men, recognizing his irrationality, stationed the soldiers and the elephants around the house, and sent Ptolemy son of Eumenes with a band of young men, ordering him to bring Scopas in—peacefully if he was willing to obey, and if not, by force.

When Ptolemy made his way into the house and announced that the king was summoning Scopas, at first Scopas paid no attention to what was said, but kept staring fixedly at Ptolemy for some time, as if menacing him and marveling at his audacity.

But when Ptolemy stepped up and boldly seized hold of his cloak, then Scopas called on those present to come to his aid.

Since, however, the young men who had come in were many, and someone made clear to him the force surrounding the house outside, he gave way to the circumstances and went along with his friends.

Chapter 54 Scopas and Dicaearchus Punished

As soon as Scopas entered the council chamber, the king first stated the charge against him briefly; after the king came Polycrates, who had just arrived from Cyprus, and last of all Aristomenes.

In all other respects the accusation made by them all was much the same as what has just been described, but to the previous charges there was now added the council he had held with his friends and his refusal to obey when summoned by the king.

On these grounds not only did all the members of the council condemn him, but so did the foreign envoys who were present.

When Aristomenes was about to make his accusation, he brought in many other distinguished men from Greece, as well as the ambassadors sent by the Aetolians to negotiate a settlement, among whom was Dorimachus son of Nicostratus.

When these speeches had been delivered, Scopas in turn tried to offer some pleas in his defense; but since no one paid him any attention, because of the senselessness of his conduct, he was immediately led off to prison along with his friends.

Then, when night came, Aristomenes had Scopas and all his relatives and friends put to death by poison; but Dicaearchus he subjected to the rack and the scourge, and so made an end of him, exacting from him a penalty that was fitting and shared on behalf of all the Greeks.

For this was the Dicaearchus whom Philip, when he set out to violate his treaties against the Cyclades and the cities on the Hellespont, appointed commander of the whole fleet and director of the entire operation.

Sent out to commit such open impiety, he not only thought he was doing nothing strange, but in the extravagance of his madness supposed that he would strike terror even into the gods as well as into men.

For wherever he anchored his ships he set up two altars, one to Impiety and one to Lawlessness, and on these he sacrificed and to these he bowed down as though they were divine powers.

For this reason it seems to me that he met with the punishment he deserved from both gods and men: having set the course of his own life against nature, fittingly he met an end against nature too at the hands of destiny.

As for the rest of the Aetolians, the king let all those who wished to return to their own country depart with their possessions.

Chapter 55 Anacleteria of Ptolemy Epiphanes

Scopas's love of money had been conspicuous even while he was alive—for in his greed he far surpassed all other men—but after his death it became even more apparent through the quantity of gold and the goods that were found in his possession.

For taking as his accomplice the savagery and the drunkenness of Charimortus, he had utterly plundered the kingdom to its very foundations.

Now once the courtiers had settled the affair of the Aetolians satisfactorily, they at once set about performing the Anacleteria of the king. His age did not yet make this pressing, but they thought that affairs would gain a certain stability and a fresh start toward better progress if the king were regarded as having now come into full power.

So, making their preparations on a magnificent scale, they carried out the proceedings in a manner worthy of the dignity of the kingdom, with Polycrates thought to have contributed the most toward this undertaking.

For the man just mentioned, even in the reign of the king's father, while he was still young, was reckoned second to none at court either in trustworthiness or in achievement, and likewise so under the present king.

For having been entrusted with Cyprus and its revenues at times that were dangerous and unsettled, he not only preserved the island for the boy-king, but also amassed a considerable sum of money, which he had now come bringing to the king, after handing over the governorship of Cyprus to Ptolemy of Megalopolis.

Having for these reasons won great approval and wealth in the years that followed, he afterward, as he advanced in age, drifted completely into licentiousness and a debauched life.

A reputation rather similar to his was inherited in old age by Ptolemy son of Agesarchus as well.

Concerning these men, when we come to the proper occasions, we shall not hesitate to set out plainly the disgraceful things that attended their exercise of power.

Book XIX

Fragments of Book XIX: papyrus scraps and archaeological shards. Book XIX, 1–2.

Chapter 1 Summary Based on Livy

Quoted by Plutarch.

Polybius says that he ordered the walls of all the cities on this side of the Baetis to be pulled down in a single day; there were a great many such cities, and they were full of fighting men.

Chapter 2 Hannibal Sells His Prisoners

There was a vast number of prisoners taken in the Punic War. When their own people did not ransom them, Hannibal sold them. The scale of the matter is shown by what Polybius writes: it cost the Achaeans one hundred talents, since they fixed the payment to be returned to the owners at five hundred denarii for each man.

Book XX

The luxurious winter wedding of Antiochus III at Chalcis while his army idles in quarters (192–191 BC). Book XX, 8.

Chapter 1 Greece: Antiochus and the Aetolians Meet

Olympiad 147, year 1. Greek Affairs.

And again from Polybius: they appointed thirty of the Apocleti to sit in council together with the king. And again: he convened the Apocleti and laid before them a deliberation concerning the present situation.

Chapter 2 The Boeotians Answer Philip's Envoys

When Philip sent an embassy to the Boeotians, the Boeotians replied to the envoys that, once the king came to them in person, they would then deliberate about the proposals being urged upon them.

Chapter 3 Epirus and Elis Ask Antiochus for Help

While Antiochus was staying at Chalcis and winter was beginning, envoys came to him: from the Epirote nation, the embassy headed by Charops, and from the city of the Eleans, the embassy headed by Callistratus.

The Epirotes urged him not to drag them prematurely into the war against the Romans, since he could see that they lay directly in the path facing Italy ahead of all the rest of Greece.

If, however, he could himself take up a forward position to defend Epirus and secure their safety, they said they would receive him into both their cities and their harbors; but if he judged it best not to do this for the present, they asked him to pardon them for being afraid of a war with the Romans.

The Eleans, for their part, urged him to send help to their city, since, now that the Achaeans had voted for war, they were wary of an attack from them.

The king answered the Epirotes that he would send envoys to discuss with them what was in their common interest, while to the Eleans he dispatched a thousand foot soldiers, putting Euphanes the Cretan in command.

Chapter 4 The Decline of Boeotia

The Boeotians had for a long time now been in a poor condition, one that stood in stark contrast to the former vigor and renown of their state.

For these people, having won great glory and great power in the days of the battle of Leuctra, somehow —I cannot say how—steadily kept losing both of the qualities just mentioned in the years that followed, under the leadership of Abaeocritus.

And from that time on they not only kept losing them, but, turning altogether to the opposite course, they obscured their earlier reputation as far as they were able.

For when the Achaeans had stirred them up to war against the Aetolians, they adopted the same policy as the Achaeans and formed an alliance with them, and thereafter waged continual war against the Aetolians.

But when the Aetolians invaded Boeotia with an army, the Boeotians marched out in full force, and—although the Achaeans had assembled and were about to come to their aid—they did not wait for their arrival but engaged the Aetolians.

Being defeated in the battle, they were so crushed in spirit that, from that campaign on, they no longer dared to lay claim to any honorable distinction at all, nor did they share with the other Greeks in any common undertaking or contest decided by joint resolution.

Instead, having given themselves over to feasting and drunkenness, they grew slack not only in their bodies but in their souls as well.

Chapter 5 Continued Decline of Boeotia

The main stages of the Boeotians' gradual decline into folly came about among them in the following way.

Immediately after the defeat mentioned above, they abandoned the Achaeans and attached their nation to the Aetolians.

But when, some time later, the Aetolians in turn went to war with Demetrius, the father of Philip, the Boeotians abandoned them as well; and when Demetrius came into Boeotia with an army, they made no trial of the dangers of resistance but submitted themselves wholly to the Macedonians.

Yet, since a faint flicker of their ancestral glory still lingered, there were some who were displeased with the present state of affairs and with the policy of obeying the Macedonians in everything.

For this reason there came to be strong political opposition between these men and the party of Ascondas and Neon, the ancestors of Brachylles; for these were the men who at that time leaned most strongly toward Macedonia.

In the end, however, the party of Ascondas gained the upper hand, owing to a turn of events of the following kind.

After the death of Demetrius, Antigonus, who was acting as Philip's guardian, was sailing on some business toward the outermost parts of Boeotia, in the direction of Larymna, when an unexpected ebb of the tide left his ships stranded on dry land.

Just at this moment a report had reached the Boeotians that Antigonus intended to overrun their territory. Neon, who was then commander of the cavalry and was leading all the Boeotian horse about with him to guard the country, came upon Antigonus and his men while they were at a loss and helpless because of what had happened.

And though he had it in his power to inflict serious harm on the Macedonians, he decided, contrary to their expectation, to spare them.

This action of his pleased the rest of the Boeotians, but it did not please the Thebans at all.

Antigonus, however, when the tide flowed back a little later and his ships were lifted free, felt deep gratitude toward Neon for not having joined in attacking them during their misfortune; and he himself completed the voyage to Asia on which he had set out.

And so afterward, when he had defeated the Spartan Cleomenes and become master of Lacedaemon, he left Brachylles as governor of the city, repaying him in this way for the good service done by his father Neon. From these favors the house of Brachylles came to be restored to no small degree.

Nor was this the only consideration Antigonus showed them; rather, continuously—now he himself, now Philip—supplying them with funds and constantly lending them strength, they quickly overcame the rival political party in Thebes and forced everyone, except a very few, to side with Macedonia.

Chapter 6 Disorganised State of Boeotia

Such, then, was the beginning that the affairs of the house of Neon took, and of its alliance with the Macedonians, and of the increase of its fortune. Meanwhile the public affairs of the Boeotians had fallen into such a wretched condition that for nearly twenty-five years justice had not been administered among them, neither in private contracts nor in public charges.

Instead, some of the magistrates would order the dispatch of garrisons and others would proclaim national levies, and in this way they continually obstructed the course of justice; and some of the generals even made payments out of the public funds to the poor among the people.

From this the masses were taught to attach themselves to such men and to secure offices for them—men through whom they could expect to pay no penalty for their crimes and debts, and from time to time to gain some share of public property through the favor of those in office. The greatest

contribution to this [...] Opheltas, who was forever devising some new scheme that seemed for the moment to benefit the many, but was bound in the end, by general admission, to ruin them all.

Along with these things followed another unfortunate fashion. Those who died childless no longer left their property to their relatives, as had earlier been the custom among them, but assigned it to feasting and drinking and made it common property for their friends.

And many even of those who had children would distribute the greater part of their estate to their dining clubs, so that there were many Boeotians who had more dinners in the month than there were days allotted to the month.

For this reason the Megarians, hating such a state of affairs and remembering their former membership in the federation alongside the Achaeans, once more turned away toward the Achaeans and their party.

For the Megarians had originally been part of the Achaean political community from the time of Antigonus Gonatas; but when Cleomenes took up a position on the Isthmus, being cut off they attached themselves to the Boeotians with the consent of the Achaeans.

A little before the times now under discussion, becoming dissatisfied with the Boeotian government, they once again turned back toward the Achaeans.

The Boeotians, enraged at what they regarded as contempt, marched out against the Megarians in full force under arms.

And when the Megarians took no notice at all of their arrival, the Boeotians, thus provoked, set about besieging the city and launching assaults on it.

But when a panic fell upon them, together with a rumor that Philopoemen had arrived with the Achaeans, they left their scaling-ladders against the wall and fled headlong back to their own land.

Chapter 7 Fortune and Degeneracy of the Boeotians

With their politics in such a condition, the Boeotians somehow slipped through, by good luck, even the crises of the times of Philip and of Antiochus.

In the period that followed, however, they did not escape; rather, as if Fortune were deliberately exacting requital, she seemed to come down heavily upon them—matters of which we shall make mention in what follows. —

The majority put forward, as the pretext for their estrangement from the Romans, the killing of Brachylles and the campaign that Titus made against Coronea on account of the murders of Romans that were taking place on the roads; but in truth they were diseased in their souls because of the causes already described.

For when the king drew near, the leading men of the Boeotians went out to meet him; and after joining him and conversing in a friendly manner, they conducted him into Thebes. —

Chapter 8 Antiochus Marries at Chalcis

Antiochus, the one called the Great, whom the Romans brought down—as Polybius records in his twentieth book—came to Chalcis in Euboea and celebrated his marriage there. He was fifty years old and had taken upon himself the two greatest of undertakings: the liberation of the Greeks, as he himself proclaimed it, and the war against the Romans.

Having fallen in love with a young Chalcidian girl in the very midst of the war, he set his heart on marrying her, being a heavy drinker and one who delighted in drunken revels.

She was the daughter of Cleoptolemus, one of the men of distinction, and she surpassed all other women in beauty.

And while celebrating his marriage there in Chalcis, he spent the whole winter on the spot, taking not the slightest thought for the business at hand; and he gave the girl the name Euboea.

So when he was defeated in the war, he fled to Ephesus with his new bride.

And out of his whole army, except for the five hundred or so who were around the king, scarcely anyone escaped; and even of the ten thousand soldiers whom—on Polybius' authority—we have recorded that the king brought across with him into Greece, only a tiny number survived.

Chapter 9 The Aetolians Seek a Truce

After Heracleia had fallen into Roman hands, Phaeneas, the general of the Aetolians, and those around him saw the crisis now closing in on Aetolia, and, keeping before their eyes what was bound to happen to the other cities, they resolved to send envoys to Manius to ask for a truce and a settlement.

Having decided on this, they sent out Archedamus, Pantaleon, and Chalepus.

When these men met with the Roman general, they intended to make a rather long speech, but they were cut off in the middle of the interview and prevented from continuing.

For Manius said that at the present moment he had no time to spare, being preoccupied with managing the spoils taken from Heracleia.

He told them, however, that he would grant a ten-day truce and would send Lucius along with them, and he instructed them to lay before Lucius whatever requests they had.

Once the truce had been made and Lucius had come to Hypata, a considerable discussion took place about the present situation.

The Aetolians built up their case by going back over the past, citing the acts of goodwill they had earlier shown toward the Romans.

But Lucius cut their enthusiasm short, saying that this kind of pleading did not fit the present circumstances; for since their original friendly relations had been dissolved by the Aetolians themselves, and the present hostility had come about because of the Aetolians, the goodwill of those earlier times contributed nothing to the present situation.

He therefore advised them to give up arguing the rights of their case and to turn instead to the language of entreaty, begging the general to grant them pardon for their offenses.

After discussing their predicament at still greater length, the Aetolians decided to entrust the whole matter to Manius, committing themselves to the good faith of the Romans— not knowing what force this carried, but misled by the word "faith," as though through it a more complete mercy would be extended to them.

But among the Romans, to put oneself into another's "faith" carries exactly the same force as to hand over to the victor full discretion over oneself.

Chapter 10 The Aetolians Do Not Confirm the Terms

Having decided on this, they sent Phaeneas and his colleagues off in haste together with Lucius to make the resolution clear to Manius.

When these men met with the general and once again pleaded their case in the same way on their own behalf, they concluded by declaring that the Aetolians had decided to commit themselves to the good faith of the Romans.

Manius took up their words and said: "So this is how matters stand, men of Aetolia?" When they nodded assent, he went on: "Then, first of all, none of you must cross over into Asia, neither on your own account nor by any public decree; second, you must hand over Dicaearchus and Menestratus the Epirote"—who happened at that time to have come to the aid of Naupactus—"and along with them King Amynander and those of the Athamanians who withdrew to your side together with him."

At this Phaeneas broke in and said: "But what you demand, general, is neither just nor in keeping with Greek ways."

Manius, not so much out of anger as from a wish to bring them to a sense of their situation and to thoroughly alarm them, replied: "Do you still play the Greek with me and talk about what is fitting and proper, after you have put yourselves into our good faith? I could bind every one of you in chains and march you off, if I saw fit."

As he said this, he ordered a chain to be brought and an iron collar to be fastened around each man's neck.

Phaeneas and his companions were struck dumb with shock and stood there speechless, as if paralyzed in body and soul at the unexpected turn of events.

But Lucius and some of the other military tribunes present begged Manius to take no harsh measures against the men before him, since they were in fact envoys. When he agreed, Phaeneas began to speak: he said that he and the Apocleti would carry out the orders, but that the assent of the people too was needed if the demands were to be ratified.

Manius said he was right, and Phaeneas then asked that another ten-day truce be granted to them. When this too was conceded, they parted on these terms for the time being.

On reaching Hypata, they reported to the Apocleti what had happened and the words that had been spoken. On hearing this, the Aetolians then for the first time grasped how mistaken they had been and what compulsion was now bearing down on them.

It was therefore decided to write to the cities and call the Aetolians together to deliberate about the orders imposed on them.

But when the report of what had befallen Phaeneas and his party was spread abroad, the people became so enraged that no one was even willing to attend the meeting for deliberation.

Since this impossibility prevented any deliberation about the demands, and since at this very moment Nicander had sailed back from Asia into Phalara on the Malian gulf—the very place from which he had set out—and was reporting the king's eagerness toward him and his promises for the future, they grew even more dismissive, so that no conclusion at all was reached about peace.

And so, as soon as the days of the truce had passed, the war was once again firmly upon the Aetolians.

Chapter 11 The Fate of Nicander

The reversal of fortune that befell Nicander is not something to be passed over in silence.

He arrived back at Phalara from Ephesus on the twelfth day after the day he had set out.

He found the Romans still occupied around Heracleia, and the Macedonians, having withdrawn from Lamia, encamped not far from the city.

He got his money safely through into Lamia, against all expectation, and then attempted that night to slip across the ground between the two camps and into Hypata.

But he fell among the Macedonian pickets and was brought up to Philip while the king's banquet was still in full swing, expecting that he would suffer something terrible, falling under Philip's anger, or else be handed over to the Romans.

When the matter was reported to the king, however, Philip quickly ordered the officers in charge to look after Nicander and to treat him with every kindness.

After a while the king himself rose from the table and met with Nicander, and after roundly reproaching the general folly of the Aetolians—first for having brought the Romans against the Greeks, and after that Antiochus as well—he nevertheless urged them even now to forget the past, to hold fast to their goodwill toward him, and not to wish to press their advantage against one another in each other's hours of crisis.

He instructed Nicander to report this to the leaders of the Aetolians; and after urging Nicander himself to remember the kindness that had been shown him, he sent him off with a sufficient escort, ordering those assigned to the task to bring him safely back to Hypata.

Nicander, to whom this reception had appeared utterly unhoped-for and astonishing, was at that time brought back safely to his own people, and in the time that followed he remained, from this connection onward, well disposed to the house of Macedon.

And so, later, in the time of the war with Perseus, bound by the gratitude just described and finding it hard to work against the designs of Perseus, he fell under suspicion and slander, and was at last summoned to Rome, where he ended his life.

Corax: a mountain between Callipolis and Naupactus. Polybius, Book 20.

Aperanteia: a city of Thessaly. Polybius, Book 20.

Chapter 12 Philopoemen's Disinterestedness

[...] one of their own number to speak to him about these matters; but whereas, in the case of most men who undertake public work for profit, there are many ready to offer such favors and to make this the beginning of friendship and alliance, in the case of Philopoemen no one at all could be found willing to convey this favor to him, until at last, being wholly at a loss, they chose by vote Timolaus. He, being both a hereditary guest-friend and long on familiar terms with Philopoemen, traveled twice to Megalopolis for this very purpose, yet did not dare to utter a word about the matter—until, spurring himself on and coming a third time, he found the courage to mention the gift.

Philopoemen, against all expectation, received him on this point graciously and kindly, and Timolaus was overjoyed, supposing that he had achieved his aim. But Philopoemen said that he would come to Sparta himself within a few days, since he wished to thank all the magistrates for this honor.

He came afterward, and being invited into the council, he said that he had long known the goodwill of the Spartans toward him, but knew it best of all from the crown now being offered to him and from such an honor.

He said, then, that he accepted their intention, but was uneasy at the manner of it. For such honors and crowns, he said, ought not to be given to one's friends—since the man who puts on such a crown can never wash off its poison—but much rather to one's enemies, so that friends, keeping their freedom of speech, may be trusted among the Achaeans whenever they propose to come to the city's

aid, while enemies, having swallowed the bait, may be forced either to plead the Spartans' cause or, by keeping silent, be unable to do them any harm. […]

Fragment of uncertain place:

To form a judgment about events from hearsay is not the same as having been an eyewitness; the two differ greatly, and the conviction that comes from seeing a thing vividly for oneself naturally contributes much in every case.

Book XXI

The underground siege warfare at Ambracia: defenders smoking out Roman sappers with charcoal and feathers (189 BC). Book XXI, 28.

Chapter 1 Embassy from Sparta

Olympiad 147, year 2. Affairs in Italy.

At this same time the embassy that the Spartans had sent to Rome returned with its hopes disappointed.

Their mission concerned the hostages and the villages.

The Senate said that it would give instructions about the villages to the envoys it would send itself, but that it still wished to deliberate further about the hostages.

As for the old exiles, it said it was amazed that they had not yet been brought home, now that Sparta had been freed.

Chapter 2 The Senate Offers the Aetolians Two Terms

When news of the Roman victory in the naval battle had just reached Rome, they first proclaimed a nine-day public thanksgiving.

That is, the whole people were to suspend ordinary business and offer thank-offerings to the gods for their success.

After this they brought before the Senate the envoys from the Aetolians and those sent by Manius.

When both sides had spoken at length, the Senate resolved to offer the Aetolians two alternatives: either they were to leave all matters concerning themselves to Roman decision, or they were to pay a thousand talents at once and treat the same people as friends and enemies that Rome did.

But when the Aetolians asked the Senate to state explicitly what issues they must submit for Roman decision, the Senate refused to define them. That is why the war with the Aetolians continued for them alone.

Chapter 3 Philip's Envoys Win Demetrius's Release

At about the same time the Senate also dealt with the envoys sent by Philip.

They had come to explain the goodwill and zeal the king had shown toward the Romans in the war against Antiochus.

After hearing them, the Senate immediately released his son Demetrius from hostage status, and also promised to remit the tribute, provided that Philip continued faithful in the present circumstances.

In the same way they also released the Spartan hostages, except Armenas the son of Nabis; he later died of illness.

Chapter 3b Achaea Allies with Eumenes

Affairs in Greece.

An embassy came into Achaea from King Eumenes asking for alliance.

The Achaeans assembled in public meeting, ratified the alliance, and sent out young troops—one thousand infantry and one hundred cavalry—under the command of Diophanes of Megalopolis.

Chapter 4 The Athenians Intercede for the Aetolians

While Manius, the Roman general, was besieging the Amphissians, the Athenian people learned both of the distress of Amphissa and of Publius's presence, and at this moment sent envoys headed by Echedemus.

Their instructions were, first, to greet Lucius and Publius, and at the same time to test whether a settlement with the Aetolians might be arranged.

When they arrived, Publius gladly welcomed them and treated them with great courtesy, seeing that they could be useful for the plans before him.

For he wanted to put Aetolian affairs in good order if possible; but if the Aetolians would not cooperate, he had fully resolved to leave that matter aside and cross into Asia.

He clearly understood that the true end of the war and of the whole enterprise was not the reduction of the Aetolian nation, but the defeat of Antiochus and mastery of Asia after victory.

Therefore, the moment the Athenians mentioned a settlement, he readily accepted what they said and told them to approach the Aetolians in the same spirit.

Echedemus and his colleagues first sent men ahead and then went themselves to Hypata, where they discussed peace with the Aetolian magistrates.

The Aetolians also agreed readily, and representatives were appointed to meet the Romans.

When these men came to Publius and found him encamped sixty stades from Amphissa, they spoke at length, reminding him of the kindnesses the Aetolians had shown to Rome in the past.

Publius spoke in an even gentler and more humane way. He cited what he had done in Spain and in Libya, explained how he had treated those in those regions who put their trust in him, and concluded by saying that they ought to place themselves in his hands and trust him.

At first all who were present became hopeful that the settlement would immediately be brought to completion.

But when the Aetolians asked on what terms they were to make peace, Lucius explained that two choices lay before them.

They must either submit everything concerning themselves to Roman decision, or pay a thousand talents at once and accept the same friends and enemies as Rome.

At this the Aetolians present were deeply troubled, because the decision was so unlike the previous tone of the conversation; still, they said they would report back to the Aetolians on the demands laid upon them.

Chapter 5 Truce With the Aetolians

So these men went back to deliberate on what had been proposed.

Echedemus and his colleagues met with the Apocleti and joined in their discussions.

One of the Roman demands was impossible because of the sheer amount of money involved; the other was frightening because they had already once been deceived in connection with surrender, when they had very nearly fallen into chains.

Therefore, perplexed and distressed, they again sent the same envoys to ask either that some part of the money be remitted, so that they could pay it, or that political leaders and women be excluded from the terms of submission.

When the envoys met Publius and his circle, they explained these decisions.

Lucius said that the authority granted him by the Senate extended only to the terms he had just stated. So the envoys returned once more.

Echedemus and his colleagues then followed them to Hypata and advised the Aetolians that, since peace was for the moment blocked, they should ask for a truce and thus win a postponement of their present miseries, and then send an embassy to the Senate.

If they obtained what they requested, well and good; if not, they must wait on circumstances.

For their position could hardly become worse than it already was, while for many reasons it might yet become better.

Since Echedemus's advice seemed sound, the Aetolians decided to send an embassy to ask for a truce.

When they reached Lucius, they begged that for the present a six-month truce be granted, so that they might send envoys to the Senate.

Publius, who had long been eager for the operations in Asia, quickly persuaded his brother to grant what they asked.

The agreements were drawn up in writing. Manius then raised the siege, handed over the whole army and the supplies to Lucius, and at once departed for Rome with his military tribunes.

Chapter 6 Asia: Factions at Phocaea

Affairs in Asia.

At Phocaea there was civil strife, partly because the Romans left on board the ships were quartered there, and partly because the people resented the orders laid upon them.

At the same time the magistrates of Phocaea, fearing both the impulse of the crowd because of the grain shortage and the agitation of the supporters of Antiochus, sent envoys to Seleucus, who was near their frontier.

They asked him not to approach the city, because they intended to remain quiet, wait for the issue of the whole conflict, and afterward obey whatever settlement was made.

Among the envoys, Aristarchus, Cassander, and Rhodon were personally attached to Seleucus and favored that policy, while Hegias and Gelias opposed it and leaned toward Rome.

When they met him, Seleucus at once gave his attention to Aristarchus and his party, while he ignored Hegias and his associates.

But when he learned how the crowd felt and how scarce grain was, he dropped further discussion and audience with the envoys and advanced on the city.

Then two Galli came out carrying their sacred emblems and breast-images and begged him not to take any irreparable step against the city.

Chapter 7 The Rhodian Firing Apparatus

The fire-throwing device used by Pausistratus, the Rhodian admiral, was a brazier.

On each side of the prow two hooked fittings were placed along the inner faces of the ship's sides, and into these were set poles projecting outward over the sea.

From the end of these the brazier, full of fire, was suspended by an iron chain.

In this way, when the ship charged or came alongside an enemy vessel, the fire could be flung onto the hostile ship, while remaining far from their own because of the outward slant of the poles.

It was also thought that Pamphilidas, the Rhodian admiral, was better suited than Pausistratus for every sort of crisis, since he was by nature deeper and steadier rather than simply bolder.

Most people, after all, do not form their judgments from reasoned principle, but from whatever result has happened.

So although they had only just chosen Pausistratus for command precisely because he had drive and daring, they immediately swung to the opposite opinion when fortune turned against him.

Chapter 8 The Aetolian Truce Announced

At this time letters reached Samos for Lucius and for Eumenes, both from Lucius the consul and from Publius Scipio, announcing the arrangements made with the Aetolians about the truce and the march of the land army toward the Hellespont.

The same facts were likewise made known to Antiochus and Seleucus by the Aetolians.

Chapter 9 Diophanes of Megalopolis as Commander

Diophanes of Megalopolis had great practical experience in warfare, because during the long war against Nabis, who was a neighbor of the Megalopolitans, he had spent all that time serving under Philopoemen and had thus gained real training in military action.

Besides this, the man was powerful and impressive both in appearance and in bodily vigor.

And most important of all, he was a brave soldier in war and exceptionally skillful in the use of arms.

Chapter 10 Antiochus Proposes Peace

King Antiochus invaded the territory of Pergamum; but when he learned that King Eumenes was present and saw that not only the naval but also the land forces were coming against him, he began to consider opening negotiations for peace at once with the Romans, Eumenes, and the Rhodians.

So he moved with his whole army to Elaea, occupied a hill opposite the city, stationed his infantry on it, and encamped his cavalry—more than six thousand strong—close by the city itself.

He himself took position between these forces and sent messengers into the city to Lucius about a settlement.

The Roman general then called together the Rhodians and Eumenes and asked each to state plainly what seemed best in the present situation.

Eudamus and Pamphilidas were not opposed to a settlement, but the king said that peace was at present neither honorable nor practicable.

“How,” he said, “could the outcome be honorable if we make peace while shut up behind walls?

And indeed how can it be practicable now? Without the consul being present, how could any agreed terms be valid without his approval?

Besides, even if some sign of agreement were reached with Antiochus, neither the fleet nor the army could properly go home before the people and Senate had ratified the terms.

We would then have nothing left but to winter here waiting for their decision, doing nothing while consuming the supplies and resources of our allies.

Then, if the Senate should refuse the settlement, we would have to begin the war afresh from the beginning, after letting the present opportunity pass—an opportunity in which, if the gods are willing, we may bring the whole matter to an end.”

Such was Eumenes’ view. Lucius approved the advice and answered Antiochus’s envoys that no settlement could be made before the proconsul arrived.

When Antiochus’s people heard this, they at once began to ravage the territory of Elaea.

After this Seleucus remained in that district, while Antiochus continued his march and entered the plain called Thebe.

There, having moved into a rich and prosperous region full of resources, he filled his army with every kind of plunder.

Chapter 11 Prusias Refuses To Help Antiochus

When King Antiochus returned to Sardis from the expedition just mentioned, he kept sending messages to Prusias, urging him to join his alliance.

In earlier times Prusias had not been unwilling to make common cause with Antiochus, because he was very much afraid that the Romans were crossing into Asia in order to overthrow all monarchs.

But a letter reached him from the brothers Lucius and Publius. When he received it and read it, his thinking changed greatly, and he gained a reasonable foresight of what was coming.

For the men around Publius had written with great clarity, and had added many proofs to make their case convincing.

They did not merely defend their own policy, but that of the Roman people as a whole, showing that they had not taken kingdoms away from the kings who originally held them; rather, in some cases they had themselves established rulers, and in others had enlarged their power and made their dominions many times greater.

They cited Indibilis and Colichas in Spain, Masinissa in Libya, and Pleuratus in Illyria.

All of these, they said, had been raised by Rome from small and insignificant dynasts into acknowledged kings.

In the same way they mentioned Philip and Nabis in Greece. Though they had defeated Philip in war and reduced him to hostages and tribute, after receiving from him only a slight proof of goodwill they had restored his son and the young men who had been hostages with him, released him from tribute, and returned many cities taken in war.

And although they could have removed Nabis altogether, they had not done so, but had spared him, tyrant though he was, after receiving the customary guarantees.

In view of all this they urged Prusias by letter not to be afraid for his throne, but confidently to choose the Roman side, since he would never regret such a decision.

After hearing these arguments Prusias changed his mind. And when envoys headed by Gaius Livius also arrived and met with him, he gave up all expectation of support from Antiochus.

Antiochus, having failed in this hope, came to Ephesus; and reflecting that only in this way could he prevent the crossing of the land army and in general keep the war away from Asia [...] if he securely commanded the sea, he resolved to fight a naval battle and decide the issue by a contest at sea.

Chapter 12 Pirates

Polybius says that when the pirates caught sight of the Roman ships sailing toward them, they suddenly turned and made their retreat.

Chapter 13 Antiochus Sends an Envoy To Discuss Peace

After his defeat in the sea battle Antiochus stayed at Sardis, wasting time and delaying in the larger conduct of the war.

As soon as he heard that the enemy had crossed over, his spirit was crushed and he lost hope; so he decided to send to Lucius and Publius to negotiate a settlement.

He chose Heracleides of Byzantium and sent him out with instructions to cede the cities of Lampsacus and Smyrna, and also Alexandria, from which the war had originally taken its beginning.

Likewise, if the Romans wished to take away any other cities in Aeolis and Ionia that had chosen their side in the present war, he was prepared for that too.

In addition, he would pay half the expense they had incurred in the war against him.

These were the instructions Heracleides had for the public audience; but for Publius in private he had other proposals, which I shall explain in due course.

When this envoy reached the Hellespont and found the Romans still waiting in the camp where they had first encamped after crossing, he was at first delighted, thinking that their remaining where they were and not yet moving on would help his negotiations.

But when he learned that Publius was still on the other side, he was troubled, because the greatest weight in the matter rested on Publius's judgment.

The reason why the army remained in its first camp and why Publius was apart from the forces was that he was one of the Salii.

As I said in my work on the constitution, this is one of the three priestly bodies by which Rome performs its most notable sacrifices to the gods.

[...] not to change their location for thirty days during the season of the sacrifice, wherever they may happen to be caught.

This happened to Publius then. Just as the army was about to cross over, that sacred period overtook him, so that he could not change place.

As a result, Scipio was separated from the army and remained in Europe, while the forces that had crossed stayed where they were and could do nothing further, awaiting the arrival of the man just mentioned.

Chapter 14 Antiochus Tries To Negotiate

After some days, when Publius had arrived, Heracleides was summoned before the council and spoke on the instructions he carried.

He said that Antiochus would withdraw from Lampsacus and Smyrna and also from the city of Alexandria, as well as from any cities in Aeolis and Ionia that had chosen the Roman side.

In addition, he would undertake to pay half the expense they had incurred in the present war.

He also said much else on the same subject, urging the Romans not to test fortune too far, since they were men, and not to make the scope of their power boundless, but to set limits to it—if possible, the

limits of Europe.

Even that, he said, would be a great and astonishing dominion, since none of their predecessors had attained it.

But if they were determined to lay hold of some part of Asia as well, let them define what parts those were, and the king would go to the utmost of his power to satisfy them.

After this had been said, the council decided that the general should reply that Antiochus ought to pay not half the cost of the war but all of it, since the war had arisen originally not because of Rome but because of him.

As for the cities, he must not free only those in Aeolis and Ionia, but give up all his dominion on this side of Taurus.

When the envoy heard this answer from the council, and saw that the demands went far beyond his instructions, he made no further attempt in the public meeting but instead devoted himself to courting Publius privately.

Chapter 15 Scipio Scorns Antiochus's Secret Proposal

When he found a suitable opportunity, he spoke of the proposals entrusted to him.

First, the king would restore Publius's son without ransom.

For at the beginning of the war Scipio's son had fallen into the hands of Antiochus's people.

Second, the king was ready even now to give whatever sum of money Publius might name, and after that to make the resources of his kingdom common with him, if only he would support the peace terms proposed by the king.

Publius said that he accepted the offer concerning his son and would be deeply grateful if Antiochus fulfilled that promise.

But as for the rest, he said the king entirely failed to understand his own interest, not only in this private approach to him, but in the public negotiations as well.

If Antiochus had made these offers while still master of Lysimacheia and of the entrance into the Chersonese, he would quickly have obtained his aim.

Likewise, even after giving up those places, if he had come to the Hellespont with his army, clearly prepared to prevent our crossing, and had then negotiated on these same points, he might still have achieved what he wanted.

But now, after allowing our forces to set foot in Asia and accepting not only the bridle but even the rider, he comes to propose equal terms of peace. Naturally he must fail and be disappointed in his

hopes.

Therefore Publius advised him to take better counsel about the present and to look truly at the situation.

In return for the king's promise about his son, he said he would give advice worth the favor offered: the king should yield on every point, but under no circumstances fight the Romans.

After hearing this, Heracleides returned and reported the details to the king.

Antiochus, believing that no harsher terms could be laid on him if he were defeated in battle than those already being demanded, gave up the business of negotiation and made every kind of preparation for a decisive struggle.

Chapter 16 Zeuxis and Antipater Sent to Negotiate Peace

After the victory the Romans had just taken possession of Sardis and its citadel [...] Musaeus came from Antiochus under flag of truce.

Publius and his associates received him graciously, and he said that Antiochus wished to send envoys to discuss the whole settlement.

Accordingly he asked that safe conduct be given to those who came. When this was granted, he returned.

After some days envoys came from King Antiochus: Zeuxis, formerly satrap of Lydia, and Antipater his nephew.

Their first concern was to meet King Eumenes, because they feared that, owing to the earlier friction, he might be especially eager to harm them.

But contrary to expectation they found him moderate and mild, and so at once moved on to the general audience.

Summoned into the council, they said much else besides, urging the Romans to use their success with gentleness and magnanimity.

They declared that this was not so much to Antiochus's advantage as to that of the Romans themselves, since fortune had now handed them mastery and dominion over the inhabited world.

In the end they simply asked what Antiochus must do to obtain peace and friendship with Rome.

The men in the council had already sat together and deliberated about these matters, and now instructed Publius to set out the decision.

Chapter 17 The Roman Terms To Antiochus

Publius said that the Romans never became harsher after victory [...]

Therefore the envoys would receive from Rome the same answer that they had already received before the battle, when they came to the Hellespont.

Antiochus must withdraw from Europe and from all Asia on this side of Taurus.

In addition, he must pay the Romans fifteen thousand Euboic talents as compensation for the cost of the war.

Of this, five hundred were to be paid immediately, another twenty-five hundred when the people ratified the settlement, and the rest over twelve years, one thousand talents each year.

He must also pay Eumenes the four hundred talents still owed to him and the grain still lacking under the treaty made with Eumenes' father.

Along with this he must surrender Hannibal the Carthaginian, Thoas the Aetolian, Mnasilochus the Acarnanian, and the Chalcidians Philo and Eubulidas.

As security for all this, Antiochus must at once provide twenty hostages of the sort specified.

Publius announced these terms on behalf of the whole council. Since Antipater and Zeuxis agreed to them, everyone resolved to send envoys to Rome to ask the Senate and people to ratify the treaty.

So they separated on those terms, and in the following days the Romans divided their forces [...]

A few days later, when the hostages had arrived at Ephesus, Eumenes and the envoys from Antiochus immediately began preparations to sail to Rome.

In the same way envoys also went to Rome from the Rhodians, the Smyrnaeans, and almost all the peoples and states dwelling on this side of Taurus.

Chapter 18 Eumenes Persuaded to Speak

Olympiad 147, year 3. Affairs in Italy.

At the opening of summer, after the Roman victory over Antiochus, King Eumenes was in Rome, together with Antiochus's envoys and those from Rhodes and many others.

Nearly everyone in Asia had sent ambassadors to Rome immediately after the battle, because at that time all hopes for the future rested for all alike with the Senate.

The Senate received everyone graciously, but gave King Eumenes the grandest reception of all, both in its formal meeting of him and in its hospitality; next after him came the Rhodians.

When the time for audience arrived, they first called in the king and asked him to speak openly about what he wanted from the Senate.

Eumenes answered that if he had wished to obtain some favor from others, he would have used the Romans as counselors, so as neither to desire anything improper nor to ask for anything beyond what was fitting.

But since he now stood before the Romans themselves as a petitioner, he thought it best to place both his own interests and those of his brothers in their hands.

When one of the elder senators rose and urged him not to be afraid but to say what seemed best to him, since the Senate was resolved to do all it could for him, Eumenes remained of the same opinion. After some time had passed, the king withdrew.

The Senate then deliberated privately on what ought to be done.

It was resolved to invite Eumenes again and encourage him to speak freely about what had brought him there, since he knew Asian affairs and his own interests more exactly than anyone else.

After this decision he was called back in, and when one of the elder senators explained the resolution, he was compelled to speak on the matter.

Chapter 19 King Eumenes In the Senate

So he was forced to address the question. He said that he would add nothing further on his own concerns, but would remain [...] entirely leaving those matters in Roman hands. One point only troubled him—the question of the Rhodians.

That was why he had now been brought to speak about the present situation.

For they had come no less eagerly to advance the interests of their own city than he had come to advance those of his own kingdom.

Yet, he said, their words would give an impression opposite to their true purpose, and this would be easy to recognize.

Once admitted, they would say that they had come neither to ask anything at all from the Romans nor in any way to injure him, but to plead for the freedom of the Greeks who lived in Asia.

They would further say that this was not so much a favor to themselves as something that befitted the Romans and was consistent with their past deeds.

Such would be the appearance created by their speech; but the real disposition behind it would be the opposite.

For if the cities were freed, as they urged, Rhodian power would greatly increase, while his own would in a way be ruined.

The very name of freedom and autonomy would draw away from him not only those cities now to be freed, but even those already subject to him from earlier times, once the Romans openly showed that this was their chosen policy; all these would be added to the Rhodians.

That is the natural course of events. Men who think they have been liberated through Rhodian action will be their allies in name, but in reality they will readily do whatever the Rhodians order, being bound to them by the greatest obligation.

Therefore, gentlemen, he urged them to watch this point carefully, lest they unknowingly strengthen one ally beyond measure while unreasonably weakening another, and at the same time end up rewarding former enemies while overlooking and slighting true friends.

Chapter 20 Eumenes Has Always Been a Friend to Rome

As for everything else, I would willingly yield to my neighbors, if need be, without contention; but in friendship toward you and goodwill for you, I would never, so far as lies in my power, give way to any living man.

I think my father too, if he were alive, would have spoken in the same way.

For he, being the first of almost all who live in Asia and Greece to share your friendship and alliance, preserved that bond in the noblest fashion to the very end of his life, not only in intention but in action.

He joined you in all your wars in Greece, provided greater land and naval forces than your other allies, contributed more supplies, and endured greater dangers.

In short, he ended his life in the very midst of action during the war with Philip, while urging the Boeotians into friendship and alliance with you.

And I, when I succeeded to the throne, preserved my father's policy—for that I could not abandon—but in deeds I have gone even further.

For the times brought me to a fiercer test than they did him.

Antiochus was eager to give me his daughter and to bind me to himself by marriage and alliance; he offered at once to restore the cities that had been taken from me before, and after that promised to do anything, if only I would join him in the war against you.

Yet I was so far from accepting any of this that, more than any other of your allies, I fought alongside you against Antiochus with large land and naval forces, contributed abundant resources when you most needed them, and exposed myself without reserve to every danger under your commanders.

In the end I even endured being shut up in Pergamum itself, besieged and in danger alike for my life and for my kingdom, because of my loyalty to the Roman people.

Chapter 21 Conclusion of Eumenes' Speech

Therefore, men of Rome, since many of you have seen these things with your own eyes and all of you know that what I say is true, it is only just that you should show proper concern for us.

It would be a most shocking thing if you made Masinissa—who was not only once your enemy, but came over to you at the last with only a few horsemen—king over the greater part of Libya because he proved faithful in a single war against Carthage, and if you raised Pleuratus, who had done nothing beyond keeping faith, to be the greatest ruler in Illyria, but then treated as nothing us who, through our forefathers, have worked with you in the greatest and finest of your achievements.

What, then, is it that I ask, and what do I say we ought to receive from you?

I will speak openly, since you yourselves have called on me to say what I think.

If you decide to keep certain parts of Asia—lands that lie on this side of Taurus and formerly belonged to Antiochus—we would wish above all to see that happen.

For we believe our kingship will be safest if you are our neighbors, and especially if we share directly in your power.

But if you decide not to do this and instead to withdraw entirely from Asia, then we say that no one has a juster claim than we do to the prizes won in the war.

Yes, someone may say that it is nobler to free those who are enslaved—if indeed they had not dared to fight beside Antiochus against you.

But since they chose to do that, it is far nobler to repay true friends with fitting gratitude than to bestow benefits on former enemies.

Chapter 22 The Rhodians Address the Senate

When Eumenes had spoken effectively and withdrawn, the council received both the king himself and what he had said with favor, and was entirely ready to gratify him as far as possible.

After him they intended to call in the Rhodians, but because one of the Rhodian envoys was late, they summoned the men from Smyrna instead.

These gave many proofs of the goodwill and zeal they had shown the Romans in the present war.

But since everyone agreed that of all the free states in Asia they had been the most wholehearted, I do not think it necessary to set out their arguments in detail.

After them the Rhodians came in. After briefly mentioning what they themselves had done for Rome, they quickly turned to the question of their own policy.

They said that the greatest difficulty of this embassy was that circumstances had set them in opposition to a king to whom both publicly and privately they were closely attached.

Their own city, they said, believed that the finest course, and the one most fitting for the Romans, was that the Greeks in Asia should be set free and enjoy autonomy, the possession dearest to all men; but for Eumenes and his brothers this was the least advantageous outcome. For every monarchy naturally hates equality and seeks to have all men—or at least as many as possible—subject and obedient.

Yet, though this was the state of things, they said they were convinced they would prevail, not because Eumenes had less influence with the Romans, but because their advice was more just and clearly more beneficial for all.

If there were no other way for the Romans to repay Eumenes except by handing over to him the autonomous cities, then there might well be a real difficulty in the present case.

They would have to choose either to neglect a true friend, or to disregard what was noble and fitting for themselves and so dim and tarnish the final glory of their own achievements.

But if both ends can be adequately provided for, who could still feel uncertainty on this point?

The case, they said, was like a lavish banquet: there is enough for everyone, and more than enough.

Lycaonia, Hellespontine Phrygia, Pisidia, and besides these the Chersonese and the neighboring parts of Europe can be given by you to whomever you wish [...]

Added to the kingdom of Eumenes, these could make it ten times what it now is; and if all or most of them were assigned to him, his power would be inferior to no other monarchy.

Chapter 23 Conclusion of the Rhodians' Speech

So, men of Rome, it is possible both to strengthen your friends on a generous scale and not to lower the splendor of your own policy.

For the end you pursue is not the same as that of other men, but something different.

All other peoples go to war because they want to conquer and acquire cities, wealth, and ships.

But the gods have made you in need of none of these things, since they have placed everything in the inhabited world under your power.

What, then, do you still need, and for what should you take the strongest possible precautions?

Clearly praise and glory among men—things that are hard to win, and even harder to preserve once won.

You can recognize the truth of this from your war against Philip. In that war you endured everything for the freedom of the Greeks; that was your declared object, and that was the only prize you gained from the war, nothing else.

Yet you prize that achievement more highly than the tribute paid by Carthage—and rightly so.

Money is a possession common to all mankind; but what is noble, and what belongs to praise and honor, belongs to the gods and to men nearest to them.

Therefore the liberation of the Greeks is the most august of all your deeds. If you now add what properly follows, the glory you possess will be brought to completion; but if you neglect it, even your former achievements will plainly be diminished.

As for us, gentlemen, having deliberately chosen this course and having truly shared with you in the greatest contests and dangers, we do not now abandon the place of friends.

Rather, what we think befits you and serves your interests, we have not hesitated to remind you of openly, aiming at nothing else and valuing nothing above what duty requires.

When the Rhodians had spoken in this way, they seemed to everyone to have spoken with moderation and good sense on the issue before them.

Chapter 24 The Decision of the Senate

After this the Senate introduced Antiochus's envoys, Antipater and Zeuxis.

They spoke with dignity and earnest appeal, and the Senate approved the agreements already made with Scipio in Asia.

A few days later the people ratified them as well, and oaths were sworn on these terms with Antipater and his colleagues.

After that they also introduced the rest of the envoys who were present from Asia; they listened only briefly, but gave them all the same answer: that they were sending ten commissioners to decide all disputed questions among the cities.

Having given this answer, they then appointed the ten commissioners, entrusting them with the details.

As for the main principles, they themselves decided that of the peoples dwelling on this side of Taurus, all who had formerly been subject to Antiochus should be given to Eumenes, except Lycia and Caria as far as the Maeander, which should belong to the Rhodians.

And among the Greek cities, those that had paid tribute to Attalus should continue to pay it to Eumenes, while only those that had paid tribute to Antiochus should have that tribute remitted.

Having laid down these outlines for the general settlement, they sent the ten commissioners out to Asia to join the consul Gnaeus.

After these arrangements had already been made, the Rhodians came again before the Senate concerning Soli in Cilicia. Because of kinship, they said, it was fitting for them to care for that city.

For the people of Soli, like the Rhodians, were colonists from Argos, and on that basis they proved the kinship between the two peoples to be brotherly.

Therefore they said it was just that the people of Soli should receive freedom from the Romans through Rhodian good offices.

When the Senate heard this, it summoned Antiochus's envoys and at first ordered that Antiochus should give up all Cilicia. But when Antipater and his party refused, on the ground that this went beyond the treaty, the Senate turned again to the case of Soli by itself.

Since the king's envoys pressed their opposition strongly, the Senate dismissed them, called in the Rhodians, explained the objections raised by Antipater's party, and added that it would endure anything if the Rhodians had firmly resolved on this point.

But the Rhodian envoys, pleased by the zeal of the Senate, said they would ask for nothing further; so the matter remained where it stood.

Then, just as the ten commissioners and the other envoys were about to set out, Scipio and Lucius—the victors over Antiochus in the naval battle—sailed into Brundisium from Italy.

After some days they entered Rome and celebrated triumphs.

Chapter 25 The Aetolian War

Affairs in Greece.

Amynander, king of the Athamanians, thinking that he had now securely recovered his kingdom, sent envoys to Rome and also to the Scipios in Asia—for they were still around Ephesus.

He partly defended himself for seeming to have regained his position through Aetolian help, partly accused Philip, but chiefly begged to be received again into alliance.

The Aetolians, believing they had found a favorable moment to recover Amphilochia and Aperantia, decided to campaign in those regions.

Nicander the general gathered the levy of the whole nation and invaded Amphilochia.

Since most of the inhabitants willingly came over to them, they moved on into Aperantia. When that region also joined them voluntarily, they campaigned next in Dolopia.

The people there at first made some show of resistance out of loyalty to Philip, but when they considered what had happened to the Athamanians and Philip's [...], they quickly changed their minds and went over to the Aetolians.

Since events had gone so well, Nicander led the army home, thinking Aetolia now secured by the peoples and places just mentioned, so that no one could any longer harm their territory.

But just when this had happened and the Aetolians were growing proud of their success, news arrived of the battle in Asia, in which they learned that Antiochus had been utterly defeated. Their spirits collapsed again.

And when Damoteles arrived from Rome and announced that the war still remained solely against them, and that Marcus and his army had crossed over to attack them, they fell into complete helplessness and did not know how to deal with the danger pressing upon them.

So they decided to send to the Rhodians and the Athenians, asking and urging them to go as envoys to Rome on their behalf, to soften Roman anger, and to find some release for the evils now surrounding Aetolia.

At the same time they sent envoys of their own again to Rome—Alexander, called Isius, Phaeneas, Chalepus, Alypus the Ambraciot, and Lycopus.

Chapter 26 Fulvius Aims to Fight at Ambracia

When envoys from Epirus came to the Roman general, he consulted with them about the campaign against the Aetolians.

They advised him to march on Ambracia—since the Ambraciots at that time belonged politically with the Aetolians.

They argued that if the Aetolians chose to accept battle, the country around that city offered the best possible ground for the armies to fight on, and that if they lost heart, the city itself was well situated for a siege. The region had abundant supplies for building siege works, and the river Aratthus, flowing past the city, would help both the needs of the camp in summer and the safety of the siege operations.

Since the envoys seemed to be advising well, the general broke camp and led the army through Epirus against Ambracia.

When he arrived and the Aetolians did not dare meet him, he went around inspecting the city and energetically pushed on the siege.

Meanwhile the Aetolian envoys who had been sent to Rome were intercepted near Cephallenia by Sibyrtus son of Petraeus and brought down to Charadrus.

At first the Epirotes decided to place them at Buchetus and guard them carefully. But after some days they demanded ransom, because they were at war with the Aetolians.

It happened that Alexander was the richest of all the Greeks, while the others, though not poor, were far inferior to him in wealth.

At first the Epirotes ordered each man to pay five talents. The others did not altogether reject this, since they valued their safety above all else.

But Alexander said he would never agree, because the money was far too much, and he spent sleepless nights mourning to himself at the thought of paying five talents.

The Epirotes, foreseeing what might happen and fearing that the Romans might learn they had detained men traveling as envoys to them and then order their release, lowered the demand and now asked three talents apiece.

The others gladly agreed, gave guarantees, and went home. But Alexander said he would not pay more than one talent, and even that was too much.

In the end he gave up hope and remained in custody, an old man with property worth more than two hundred talents; I think he would rather have died than pay the three talents.

So strong in some men is the drive and eagerness to grasp more.

Yet on this occasion chance itself aided his greed, so that because of the turn events took, his irrationality won praise and approval from everyone.

For a few days later letters arrived from Rome ordering the men's release, and so he alone was freed without ransom.

When the Aetolians heard how his affair had turned out, they appointed Damoteles once again as envoy to Rome.

But when he had sailed as far as Leucas and learned that Marcus was advancing through Epirus with his army against Ambracia, he gave up all hope in the embassy and returned to Aetolia.

Chapter 27 Siege of Ambracia

The Aetolians, besieged by Marcus the Roman consul, met the assault of the engines and battering rams with spirited resistance.

For after securing his camp, Marcus organized the siege on a large scale. He brought three works up through the level ground against the quarter called the Pyrrheium, separate from one another but

parallel, and a fourth against the Asclepieion and a fifth against the acropolis.

Since the attack was pressed vigorously at all these points at once, the expectation of what was coming became terrifying to the men inside.

While the rams struck hard at the walls and the hooked poles dragged away the battlements, the defenders tried to counter these devices by letting fall upon the rams, from cranes, masses of lead and stone and oak logs.

Against the hooks they fastened iron grapnels and dragged them inside the wall, so that the shaft was shattered against the battlements and they gained control of the hooked irons.

Most of all they fought by making sallies with great courage, sometimes attacking by night the men sleeping at the works, sometimes openly assailing those on daytime duty, and so they delayed the siege.

Nicander was operating outside and sent five hundred cavalry into the city. These broke through the enemy entrenchment lying between and slipped into the city. [...]

He had instructed them that on the agreed day they were to sally out and make [...], while he himself would join in and support the danger.

[...] They rushed boldly out of the city and fought gallantly, but Nicander failed them, whether because he was frightened by the danger or because he thought the business occupying him elsewhere was necessary; so the attempt miscarried.

Chapter 28 Smoking Out the Enemy

The Romans, working constantly with their battering rams, kept bringing down one part of the wall after another.

Even so, they could not force their way into the city through the breaches, because the defenders worked energetically at rebuilding inside and the Aetolians fought bravely on the fallen sections.

Therefore, at a loss, the Romans turned to mining and underground tunnels.

They secured the central one of the three existing works and carefully covered the shaft with screens, then drove forward a gallery parallel to the wall for nearly two plethra.

From this they began to dig continuously, night and day in relays.

For several days they escaped the notice of those inside while carrying the earth out through the shaft.

But when the pile of excavated soil became large and visible from the city, the leaders of the besieged vigorously dug a trench inside, parallel to the wall and to the gallery opposite the towers. When it had

reached a sufficient depth, they set a continuous row of thin bronze vessels along the side nearest the wall, and walking by them in the trench listened for the sound of digging from outside.

Once they had marked the spot where one of the vessels signaled by sympathetic vibration, they dug an underground cross-passage from within toward the existing trench under the wall, aiming to meet the enemy head-on.

This was quickly achieved, because the Romans had not only reached the wall underground but had already propped up a considerable stretch of wall on both sides of the mine, and so the two sides encountered one another.

At first they fought underground with pikes; but because neither side could do much, since both protected themselves with shields and wicker screens, someone then suggested to the defenders that they place at the width of the tunnel a large jar, bore a hole through its bottom, insert an iron tube as long as the vessel, fill the whole jar with fine feathers, and put a very small fire under it near the rim.

Then they were to fit over the mouth an iron lid full of holes and carefully push it into the mine with its opening facing the enemy.

When it came close to the enemy, they were to pack the rim all around, leaving only two holes on either side, through which they could thrust pikes so as to keep the enemy from approaching the jar.

After that, taking a bellows such as smiths use and fitting it to the iron tube, they were to blow hard on the fire among the feathers, gradually pulling the tube outward as the feathers burned farther in. Everything was done exactly this way.

The result was a great quantity of smoke, and because of the nature of feathers it was particularly acrid, all of it driven into the enemy tunnel.

So the Romans suffered badly and were in great difficulty, being unable either to stop the smoke or to endure it in the mine.

As the siege was thus being prolonged, the Aetolian general decided to send envoys to the Roman commander.

Chapter 29 Athens, Rhodes, and Athamania Intercede

At this time the envoys from Athens and Rhodes came to the Roman camp to lend their help toward a settlement.

King Amynander of the Athamanians also arrived, eager to rescue the Ambraciots from the troubles surrounding them, Marcus having granted him safe conduct because of the circumstances.

For he had a close attachment to the Ambraciots, since he had spent a long time in exile in that city.

A few days later some men also came from the Acarnanians bringing Damoteles and his companions, because Marcus, when he learned of what had happened to them, had written to the people of Thyrium to send the men on to him.

Once all these had assembled, negotiations for peace were energetically pursued.

Amynander, true to his purpose, kept pressing the Ambraciots, urging them to save themselves [...] and saying that this was not far off if they did not take better counsel for themselves.

Since he repeatedly approached the wall and spoke to them in this way, the Ambraciots decided to invite him into the city.

The Roman general allowed the king to enter, and once inside he discussed the present situation with the Ambraciots.

Meanwhile the envoys from Athens and Rhodes took hold of the Roman commander and, by speaking to him in many different ways, tried to soften his anger.

Someone also suggested to Damoteles and Phaeneas that they should attach themselves to Gaius Valerius and work on him.

He was the son of the Marcus who had first concluded alliance with the Aetolians, and the maternal half-brother of Marcus, the general then in command; besides this, he was an energetic young man and especially trusted by the commander.

When Damoteles and his companions appealed to him, he thought the matter touched him personally and that it was his duty to stand up for the Aetolians, so he threw all his zeal and ambition into rescuing the nation from the evils around it.

With every effort thus being brought to bear from all sides, the matter was finally brought to completion.

For the Ambraciots, persuaded by the king, put themselves in the hands of the Roman commander and surrendered the city, on condition that the Aetolians should be allowed to depart under truce.

They made this their first stipulation in order to keep faith with their allies.

Chapter 30 End of the Aetolian War

So Marcus agreed to make peace with the Aetolians on these terms.

He was to receive two hundred Euboic talents at once, and three hundred more in six years, fifty each year.

All Roman prisoners and deserters in Aetolian hands were to be restored to the Romans within six months, without ransom.

The Aetolians were not to retain within their federal state, nor later admit into it, any city that, after Lucius Cornelius crossed over, had either been taken by the Romans or had entered friendship with them.

The Cephallenians were to be excluded from these terms altogether.

These were the main heads in which the settlement was then sketched out; but first the Aetolians had to approve them, and after that they had to be referred to Rome.

The Athenians and Rhodians stayed where they were, awaiting the Aetolian decision, while Damoteles and his companions returned and explained to the Aetolians what had been granted.

In general the terms pleased them, for everything was better than they had expected. They hesitated for some time only over the cities that had formerly belonged to their federation, but in the end they agreed to the proposals.

Marcus then took over Ambracia. He allowed the Aetolians to depart under truce, but he carried off from the city the statues, portrait-statues, and paintings, which were numerous because Ambracia had been a royal residence of Pyrrhus.

He was also given a crown valued at one hundred and fifty talents.

After settling these matters he marched into inland Aetolia, amazed that no one from the Aetolians came to meet him.

When he reached the place called Amphilochian Argos, one hundred and eighty stades from Ambracia, he encamped there.

There Damoteles and his companions met him and explained that the Aetolians had resolved to ratify the agreement made through them. So they separated, the Aetolians going home and Marcus returning to Ambracia.

Once there, he began preparations to transport the army across to Cephallenia, while the Aetolians appointed Phaeneas and Nicander as envoys and sent them to Rome about the peace.

For none of the terms already mentioned had any force at all unless the Roman people also approved them.

Chapter 31 Leon's Simile of the Sea Wins Peace

So these men set out on the mission, taking with them the Rhodians and the Athenians.

Marcus likewise sent Gaius Valerius and some other friends to press the matter of peace.

But when they arrived in Rome, Roman anger against the Aetolians was renewed because of King Philip.

For Philip, believing that the Aetolians had unjustly taken Athamania and Dolopia from him, sent to his friends and urged them to share his anger and refuse the peace.

Therefore when the Aetolians first entered, the Senate refused to hear them; but when the Rhodians and Athenians pressed the matter, it gave way and listened.

For Leon son of Cichesias, speaking after Damon, seemed to have spoken well in other respects and to have used a comparison especially suited to the case.

He said that Roman anger against the Aetolians was understandable, because although the Aetolians had received many benefits from Rome, instead of repaying them with gratitude they had brought Roman supremacy into great danger by igniting the war with Antiochus.

Yet the Senate was mistaken in one respect, in directing its anger against the mass of the people. In states, he said, what happens to the multitude is very like what happens at sea.

The sea by its own nature is always calm and settled, and in general such that it would never disturb those who approach and use it.

But when violent winds fall upon it and force it into unnatural motion, then nothing becomes more terrible or more fearsome than the sea. That, he said, was exactly what had now happened in Aetolia.

“As long as they remained undisturbed, they were the most loyal of all Greeks to you and the surest partners in action.

But when Thoas and Dicaearchus blew in from Asia, and Menestas and Damocritus from Europe, and threw the masses into confusion, forcing them against their nature in all they said and did, then, in their bad judgment, they wished to harm you but instead became the cause of disaster to themselves.

Therefore you should be implacable toward those men, but pity the many and make peace with them, knowing that once they have become themselves again—and now, beyond all else, have been saved by you—they will once more prove the most loyal of all Greeks.”

After the Athenian spoke in this way, he persuaded the Senate to make peace with the Aetolians.

Chapter 32 Terms of the Treaty

Since the council so resolved, and the people also voted in agreement, the settlement was ratified. The detailed terms of the treaty were as follows.

“The people of the Aetolians [...] the rule and supremacy of the Roman people [...].

They shall not allow enemies to pass through their land or cities against the Romans or their allies and friends, nor shall they supply them by public decree with anything.

[...] And whenever the Romans are at war with anyone, the people of the Aetolians shall also be at war with them.

The Aetolians shall restore all Roman and allied deserters, runaway slaves, and prisoners, except those who, after being captured in war, returned to their own country and were later captured again, and except those who became enemies of Rome at the time when the Aetolians were fighting on Rome's side; these are to be handed over within one hundred days from the swearing of the oaths to the Roman official in Corcyra.

If some are not discovered within that time, then whenever they are found they shall be handed over without deceit; and after the oaths they are not to be allowed to return to Aetolia.

The Aetolians shall pay at once to the commander in Greece two hundred Euboic talents of silver, of no worse quality than Attic silver, though if they wish they may pay one third of the amount in gold, reckoning one mina of gold for ten minae of silver.

And from the day on which the oaths are sworn, for the first six years they shall pay fifty talents each year, depositing the money in Rome. The Aetolians shall also give forty hostages to the commander, not younger than twelve and not older than forty years, for a term of six years, chosen by the Romans, excepting the general, the cavalry commander, the public secretary, and anyone who has already served as a hostage in Rome. These hostages are to be delivered in Rome.

If any of the hostages die, they shall replace him with another.

Cephallenia shall not be included in the treaty.

Of whatever lands, cities, or persons the Aetolians once controlled, if under Lucius Quinctius and Gnaeus Domitius or later they were taken or entered friendship with Rome, the Aetolians shall not bring into their federation any of those cities or the people in them.

The city and territory of Oeniadae shall belong to the Acarnanians."

When the oaths on these terms had been sworn, the peace was complete; and the affairs of the Aetolians, and in general of the Greeks, took this form.

Chapter 32b Fulvius Seizes the Citadel by Night

Fulvius carried out a night attack, seized the part of the citadel, and brought the Romans inside.

Chapter 32c Philopoemen Unites the Noble and the Advantageous

What is noble and what is advantageous seldom run together, and rare are the men able to unite and harmonize them with each other.

For in most cases we all know that what is noble avoids the character of immediate profit, and profit avoids the character of what is noble.

Yet Philopoemen made this his aim and accomplished it. For it was noble to bring the captive exiles back to Sparta, and advantageous to humble the Spartan state by killing those who had served as bodyguards to the tyranny.

And seeing that money is the source from which every monarchy recovers itself, and being by nature a shrewd and statesmanlike man, he [...] the bringing-in of funds procured from outside.

Chapter 33 The War with the Galatians of Asia

Affairs in Asia.

At the very time when the embassies in Rome were dealing with the treaty with Antiochus and the settlement of Asia as a whole, and while the Aetolian nation was at war in Greece, the war in Asia against the Galatians also came to its conclusion. It is that narrative that now begins.

And when he had approved of the young man at their meeting, he immediately sent him away to Pergamum.

Chapter 34 Moagetes of Cibyra

Moagetes was tyrant of Cibyra, a cruel and treacherous man, and he deserves remembrance not in passing, but with deliberate notice worthy of his character.

When the Roman consul Gnaeus approached Cibyra and Helvius had been sent ahead to discover what attitude he meant to take, Moagetes sent envoys begging that the countryside not be ravaged, since he was a friend of the Romans and would do whatever was ordered.

At the same time he also offered a crown worth fifteen talents.

On hearing this, Helvius said he would refrain from ravaging the territory, but told him to negotiate with the commander himself about the whole matter, since he was following close behind with the army.

After this Moagetes sent not only envoys but also his own brother along with them. When Gnaeus met them on the march, he spoke to the envoys in a strained and bitter tone, saying that Moagetes was not only the least friendly to Rome of all the dynasts in Asia, but that he had [...] with his whole strength toward the overthrow of Roman dominion, and deserved correction and punishment.

Terrified by this display of anger, the envoys gave up the rest of their instructions and merely asked him to grant an interview.

When he consented, they returned that day to Cibyra.

On the next day the tyrant came out with his friends, plainly and humbly dressed, without pomp, lamenting in his speech his own helplessness and the weakness of the cities he ruled, and asking Gnaeus to accept the fifteen talents.

For he ruled Cibyra, Syleium, and the city in the Marsh.

Gnaeus, astonished at his shamelessness, said nothing else to him except that if he did not gladly pay five hundred talents, he would not merely ravage the countryside, but would besiege and plunder the city itself.

Then Moagetes, terrified at what was coming, begged him not to do anything of the kind. Little by little he kept increasing the money offered, and in the end persuaded Gnaeus, after taking one hundred talents and ten thousand medimni of wheat, to admit him to friendship.

Chapter 35 Pacification of Pamphylia

At the time when Gnaeus was crossing the river called Colobatus, envoys came to him from the city named Isinda and begged for help.

They said that the Termessians, after bringing in Philomelus, had laid waste their territory and plundered their city, and were now besieging the acropolis, where all the citizens together with their wives and children had taken refuge.

When Gnaeus heard them, he promised gladly that he would help, and, thinking the opportunity a lucky stroke, directed his march toward Pamphylia.

When he came near Termessus, he made terms of friendship with them on receiving fifty talents, and did the same with the Aspendians.

He also received the envoys from the other Pamphylian cities, created in each of them, in their interviews, the impression already described, relieved the people of Isinda from the siege, and then once more resumed his march against the Galatians.

Chapter 36 Conquest of Pisidia

After taking the city of Cyrmasa and a great quantity of spoil, Gnaeus broke camp again.

As they marched along the lake, envoys came from Lysinoe and surrendered themselves to Roman protection.

Gnaeus accepted them, invaded the territory of the Sagalassians, drove off a large amount of booty, and waited to see what decision the men of the city would make.

When envoys came to him, he received them and, after taking a crown worth fifty talents, twenty thousand medimni of barley, and twenty thousand medimni of wheat, admitted them to friendship.

Chapter 37 The Galatians of Asia

Gnaeus, the Roman commander, sent envoys to the Galatian Eposognatus, asking him to negotiate with the Galatian kings.

Eposognatus in turn sent envoys to Gnaeus and urged the Roman commander not to strike first or lay hands on the Tolistobogian Galatians, since Eposognatus himself would go to their kings and speak with them about friendship and was confident that he could persuade them to take a proper course in every respect.

As the Roman consul Gnaeus advanced, he bridged the river Sangarius, which was deep and difficult to cross.

While he was encamped by the river, Galli came from Attis and Battacus, priests at Pessinus of the Mother of the Gods, wearing breast-images and sacred emblems, and declaring that the goddess announced victory and power to him.

Gnaeus received them kindly.

Later, when Gnaeus was near the little town called Gordium, envoys came from Eposognatus announcing that he had gone and spoken with the Galatian kings, but that they would not agree to any friendly arrangement at all. Instead, they had gathered their children, women, and all their possessions on the mountain called Olympus and stood ready for battle.

Chapter 38 A Galatian Woman Takes Vengeance

Quoted by Plutarch, De mulierum virtutibus.

Chiomara, the wife of Ortiagon, was among the prisoners taken together with the other women when Gnaeus and the Romans defeated the Galatians in Asia.

The centurion who took her used his opportunity in a soldier's fashion and violated her.

He was a man enslaved alike to pleasure and to money; yet greed finally got the better of him, and when a large amount of gold was agreed upon as ransom for the woman, he led her away to release her, with a river lying between the two sides.

When the Galatians had crossed, paid him the gold, and were taking back Chiomara, she signaled with a nod that one of them should strike down the Roman as he embraced her and was taking leave with affected courtesy.

The man obeyed, cut off his head, and she picked it up, wrapped it in her folds, and rode away.

When she came to her husband and laid the head before him, he marveled and said, "Woman, fidelity is a fine thing." "Yes," she answered, "but it is finer that only one man who has slept with me should be

alive.”

Polybius says that he himself met and spoke with this woman at Sardis and admired both her spirit and her intelligence.

Chapter 39 Attempted Treachery By the Galatians

After the Romans had won their victory over the Galatians and were encamped near the city of Ancyra, with Gnaeus the commander preparing to advance farther, envoys came from the Tectosages asking Gnaeus to leave his forces where they were, but on the following day to come himself to the space between the camps. Their kings, they said, would also come and discuss terms of settlement.

Gnaeus agreed and came at the appointed time with five hundred cavalry, but the kings did not appear.

After he had returned to his own camp, the envoys came again, making excuses for the kings and asking him to come once more, since this time they would send leading men to discuss the whole business.

Gnaeus said he would come, but stayed in his own camp and instead sent Attalus and some military tribunes with three hundred cavalry.

The Galatian envoys arrived as agreed and discussed the situation, but at the end they said they had no power either to conclude the matter or to ratify anything that had been proposed.

They declared that the kings would come the next day and settle everything, if only Gnaeus the commander also came to them.

When Attalus and his companions promised that Gnaeus would come, they then separated.

But the Galatians were using these delays and maneuvering against the Romans because they wanted to move some of their dependents and property beyond the river Halys and, above all, if possible to get the Roman commander into their hands—or, failing that, at least to kill him.

With that plan fixed, they watched the next day for the Romans to appear, having a thousand cavalry ready.

Gnaeus heard Attalus’s report and, persuaded that the kings would come, rode out as usual with five hundred cavalry.

It happened that on the previous days the Roman parties sent out for wood and fodder had gone in this same direction, taking advantage of the cavalry escort that accompanied those going to the conference.

The same thing happened on this occasion too, and since many had gone out, the military tribunes also ordered the cavalry who usually escorted the foragers to go in that direction.

By this chance, what was needed for the danger at hand came to pass of itself.

Chapter 40 A Proverb from the Ariarathes Affair

[…] of the affair concerning Ariarathes […] into the proverb: for having […] they became […] to their enemies.

Chapter 41 Embassies Crown Manlius at Ephesus

Olympiad 147, year 4. Affairs in Asia.

At this time, while Gnaeus the Roman commander was wintering at Ephesus in the last year of the Olympiad in question, embassies came both from the Greek cities in Asia and from many others, bringing crowns to Gnaeus because he had defeated the Galatians.

For all who lived on this side of Taurus rejoiced at Antiochus's defeat not so much because some thought they were released from tribute, others from garrisons, and everyone generally from royal commands, as because the fear inspired by the barbarians had been taken away and they seemed delivered from the barbarians' violence and lawlessness.

Musaeus also came from Antiochus, and envoys from the Galatians, wanting to learn on what terms they might make friendship.

So too envoys came from Ariarathes, king of Cappadocia. For he also, having shared Antiochus's hopes and taken part in the battle against the Romans, was fearful and perplexed about his own fate.

Therefore he repeatedly sent embassies, wishing to learn what payment or what action might obtain pardon for his mistake.

The commander praised all the embassies from the cities and received them kindly before dismissing them.

To the Galatians he replied that once he had welcomed King Eumenes, he would then conclude arrangements with them. To Ariarathes' envoys he said that if they paid six hundred talents, they might have peace.

To Antiochus's envoy he arranged that he would come with the army to the borders of Pamphylia to receive the two thousand five hundred talents and the grain the king owed his soldiers under the agreements previously made with Lucius.

After this he purified the army, and since the season now allowed it, he broke camp with Attalus, reached Apamea on the eighth day, stayed there three days, and on the fourth marched on again with forced marches.

On the third day after that he came to the place appointed for meeting Antiochus's people and encamped there.

When Musaeus and his companions met him and begged him to stay because the wagons and pack animals bringing the grain and money were delayed, he agreed and remained three days.

When the supplies arrived, he measured out the grain to the army and handed the money to one of the military tribunes with instructions to convey it to Apamea.

Chapter 42 Perga Surrenders; Commissioners Meet at Apamea

When Gnaeus learned that the commander of the garrison stationed by Antiochus at Perga was neither withdrawing the garrison nor leaving the city himself, he marched there with his army.

As he approached the city, the officer in command came out to meet him and begged that no judgment be passed before he was heard.

He said that he was simply doing what duty required: Antiochus had entrusted the city to him in good faith, and he was guarding it until the man who had entrusted it made clear what he should do; up to the present, no one had informed him at all.

Therefore he asked for thirty days, so that he might send and ask the king what course to take.

Gnaeus, seeing that Antiochus was behaving honorably in all other respects, allowed him to send and inquire of the king; and after some days, when the answer came, he surrendered the city.

At about this time the ten commissioners and King Eumenes sailed to Ephesus, just as summer was beginning; after taking two days to recover from the voyage, they went up to Apamea.

When Gnaeus learned of their arrival, he sent his brother Lucius with four thousand men to the Oroandians, in a show of force, to collect the money still owed under the agreed terms.

He himself broke camp with the rest of the army and hurried on, eager to join Eumenes and the commissioners.

When he reached Apamea and found both the king and the ten, he sat in council with them about affairs.

They decided first to ratify the oaths and treaty with Antiochus, concerning which there is no need to say more at length, since one can form one's judgment from the written terms themselves.

Chapter 43 Settlement of Asia

The detailed provisions were as follows: Antiochus and the Romans were to remain friends for all time, provided he carried out the treaty.

King Antiochus and those under his authority were not to allow enemies of the Romans and their allies to pass through their territory or to supply them in any way.

The same obligation applied in reverse to the Romans and their allies with regard to Antiochus and those under him.

Antiochus was not to make war on the islanders or on peoples in Europe.

He was to evacuate the cities and territory [...].

His soldiers were to take nothing out except the weapons they were carrying; if they had removed anything else, they were to restore it to the same cities.

They were not to receive from the realm of King Eumenes either soldiers or anyone else.

If any of Antiochus's troops were in the cities being taken over by the Romans, they were to be returned to Apamea.

But any persons from Antiochus's kingdom who were with the Romans and their allies were to be free either to remain where they were, if they wished, or to run away.

Antiochus and those under him were to restore the slaves of the Romans and their allies, as well as prisoners and deserters, and any captives they might have received from any source.

Antiochus was also to hand over, if it was in his power, Hannibal son of Hamilcar the Carthaginian, Mnasilochus the Acarnanian, Thoas the Aetolian, the Chalcidians Eubulidas and Philo, and any Aetolians who had held federal office.

He was to surrender all the elephants at Apamea and to keep no others in the future.

He was likewise to surrender his warships and all their tackle and equipment, and thereafter keep no more than ten decked ships; he was not to possess any vessel rowed by more than thirty oars, nor any single-banked warship for wars begun by himself.

Nor were his ships to sail west of the Calycadnus and the Sarpedonian promontory, except when carrying tribute, envoys, or hostages.

Antiochus was not to be allowed to levy mercenaries from territory subject to Rome, nor to receive fugitives from it.

Any houses belonging to Rhodians or their allies in territory subject to King Antiochus were to remain Rhodian property, as they had been before the outbreak of war.

Any debts owed to them were still to be legally recoverable, and any property taken from them was to be returned once traced. The Rhodians were also to continue, as before the war, exempt from dues.

If Antiochus had given to others any of the cities he was now bound to restore, he was to withdraw his garrisons and men from those places too. If people later wished to desert to him, he was not to receive them.

Antiochus was to pay the Romans twelve thousand talents of the best Attic silver over twelve years, one thousand each year, each talent weighing not less than eighty Roman pounds, and also five hundred and forty thousand modii of grain.

He was also to pay King Eumenes three hundred and fifty talents over the first five years, seventy each year at the appropriate [...] season when he also paid the Romans, and, in place of the grain as valued by Antiochus himself, one hundred and twenty-seven talents and one thousand two hundred and eight drachmas, which Eumenes agreed to accept in satisfaction.

Antiochus was to give twenty hostages, replacing them every three years with others, none younger than eighteen and none older than forty-five.

If any payment fell short, the deficit was to be made good in the following year.

If any of the cities or peoples whom Antiochus was forbidden to attack should themselves first make war on him, he might lawfully fight them.

But he was not to exercise sovereignty over such peoples or cities, nor attach them to himself as friends.

Any injuries committed by either side against the other were to be submitted to arbitration.

If both parties by common agreement wished to add anything to the treaty or remove anything from it, they were free to do so.

Chapter 44 Thermus Sent to Syria, Fleet Ordered to Patara

When the oaths on these terms had been sworn, the commander at once sent Quintus Minucius Thermus and Lucius, the commander's brother—who had only just brought back the money from the Oroandians—into Syria.

They were instructed to receive the king's oaths and confirm the particular clauses of the treaty.

He also sent dispatches to Quintus Fabius, commander of the fleet, ordering him to sail once more to Patara, take over the ships lying there, and burn them.

Chapter 45 Ariarathes Buys Roman Friendship

Manlius the proconsul, after exacting three hundred talents from Ariarathes, made him a friend of the Romans.

Chapter 46 The Settlement of Asia at Apamea

At Apamea the ten commissioners and Gnaeus, the Roman commander, heard everyone who had come before them. In cases where men disputed about territory, money, or some other matter, they assigned to them cities acknowledged by both sides as places in which the disputed claims were to be judged. Their general settlement, however, was as follows.

All autonomous cities that had formerly paid tribute to Antiochus but had remained loyal to Rome were released from tribute; while those that had paid assessed contributions to Attalus were ordered to pay the same tribute to Eumenes.

If any cities had revolted from friendship with Rome and fought on Antiochus's side, they were ordered to pay to Eumenes the tribute formerly assigned to Antiochus.

The Colophonians living at Notium, the Cymaeans, and the people of Mylasa were left tax-free.

To the Clazomenians they added as a gift the island called Drymussa, and to the Milesians they restored the sacred land from which they had earlier withdrawn because of the wars.

They also favored the Chians, Smyrnaeans, and Erythraeans in other ways and assigned to each of them the territory each presently desired and believed rightfully theirs, in recognition of the goodwill and zeal they had shown during the war.

They restored to the Phocaeans their ancestral constitution and the territory they had formerly possessed.

After that they dealt with the Rhodians, giving them Lycia and Caria up to the river Maeander, except Telmessus.

As for King Eumenes and his brothers, they had already made as much provision for them as they could in the treaty with Antiochus, and they now added in Europe the Chersonese, Lysimacheia, and the forts and territory adjacent to them that Antiochus had ruled.

In Asia they gave him Hellespontine Phrygia, Greater Phrygia, the Mysians whom Prusias had previously detached from him, Lycaonia, Milyas, Lydia, Tralles, Ephesus, and Telmessus.

These were the gifts they assigned to Eumenes. But regarding Pamphylia, since Eumenes claimed it lay on this side of Taurus while Antiochus's envoys claimed the opposite, they referred the matter to the Senate.

When most of the necessary and important arrangements had thus been completed, they broke camp and marched toward the Hellespont, wishing on the way to secure matters still further in regard to the Galatians.

Chapter 47 Thracians Attack the Returning Romans

On the Romans' return journey they suffered many terrible things at the hands of the Thracians [...]

The surviving Greek here is badly mutilated; only the opening sense can be translated with confidence.

Book XXII

The federal assembly of the Achaean League in session before visiting Mediterranean embassies. Book XXII, 7–10.

Chapter 1 Contents

Olympiad 147, year 4. Affairs in Greece.

Embassies came to Rome from Philip and from the peoples bordering on Macedonia; and the Senate made its decisions concerning those envoys.

Philip's dispute in Greece with the Thessalians and Perrhaebians about the cities that Philip had held in Thessaly and Perrhaebia since the war with Antiochus.

The defense made on these matters before Quintus Caecilius at Tempe, and the judgments delivered by Caecilius and his colleagues.

Another hearing about the cities in Thrace, between Philip on the one side and the envoys from Eumenes and the exiles from Maroneia on the other; what was said about these matters at Thessalonica, and what Caecilius and his colleagues decided.

The massacre at Maroneia brought about by King Philip; the arrival of envoys from Rome and the orders they delivered; and the reasons why war arose between the Romans and Perseus.

In the Peloponnese, the arrival of envoys from King Ptolemy, from Eumenes, and from Seleucus.

The decisions of the Achaeans both about the alliance with Ptolemy and about the gifts offered to them by the kings just mentioned.

The arrival of Quintus Caecilius and his censure of the arrangements made at Sparta.

How Areus and Alcibiades, two of the earlier exiles from Sparta, went as envoys to Rome and brought accusations against Philopoemen and the Achaeans.

Chapter 2 Roman Envoys Meet the Achaeans at Cleitor

In the 148th Olympiad Roman envoys arrived at Cleitor, and a synod of the Achaeans was held.

Their speeches on both sides about Spartan affairs, and the decisions taken by the Achaeans, are given here in summary.

Chapter 3 Sparta and the League

After the execution of the men at Compasium, some Spartans were offended by what had happened and thought that Philopoemen had destroyed both the power and the leadership of Sparta. So they went to Rome and brought charges against Philopoemen and his measures.

In the end they obtained a letter to the Achaeans from Marcus Lepidus, who later became chief priest, but at that time held the consulship.

He wrote to the Achaeans saying that they had not handled Spartan affairs rightly.

When these envoys were on their mission, Philopoemen at once appointed Nicodemus of Elis and his colleagues and sent them to Rome.

At this same time Demetrius of Athens also arrived as envoy from Ptolemy, to renew the existing alliance between the king and the Achaean people.

The Achaeans gladly accepted the renewal, and appointed as envoys to Ptolemy my own father Lycortas, together with Theodoridas and Rositeles of Sicyon, so that they might swear the oath on behalf of the Achaeans and receive the king's oath in return.

At this time there also occurred an incident that may perhaps seem incidental, but is worth remembering. After the renewal of the alliance had been completed, Philopoemen entertained the envoy on behalf of the Achaeans.

During the gathering, when mention was made of the king, the envoy launched into a long speech praising Ptolemy, and offered various examples of his skill and daring in hunting, and then of his ability and training in horsemanship and the use of arms.

At the end he gave as proof of what he had said that once, while hunting, the king had struck a bull from horseback squarely with a javelin.

Chapter 4 The Murderers of Brachylles

In Boeotia, after the Romans had completed their treaty with Antiochus and the hopes of all those bent on revolution had been cut away, the governments of the cities began to take on a different spirit and direction.

So too, since the administration of justice among them had been dragging on for almost twenty-five years, people now began to say in the several cities that there ought to be a settlement and conclusion to their disputes with one another.

But because there was much controversy over this, since the discontented were more numerous than the wealthy, an accidental development occurred that helped the party which preferred the better course.

For Titus had long been active at Rome in trying to get Zeuxippus restored to Boeotia, since he had made much use of him as an associate during the wars with Antiochus and Philip.

And at this time he had persuaded the Senate to write to the Boeotians that Zeuxippus and the exiles with him should be brought home again.

When this message arrived, the Boeotians, fearing that if these men returned they would be drawn away from Macedonian friendship, wanted the judgments against Zeuxippus and his associates, which had previously been entered against them, to be publicly proclaimed [...]

Thus in one case they condemned them for sacrilege, on the ground that they had stripped the silver from the table of Zeus, and in another to death for the murder of Brachylles.

After arranging matters in this way, they no longer paid attention to what was written, but sent envoys to Rome headed by Callicritus, saying that they could not annul measures that had been enacted among them according to law.

At the same time Zeuxippus himself sent an embassy to the Senate, and the Romans wrote to the Aetolians and Achaeans about the attitude of the Boeotians, ordering them to restore Zeuxippus to his country.

The Achaeans refrained from making an incursion with an army, but chose envoys to go and urge the Boeotians to obey the Romans and to bring their legal disputes with the Achaeans to a conclusion, just as they administered justice among themselves.

For disputes between the two peoples too had already been dragging on for a long time.

When the Boeotians heard this, while Hippias was their general, they immediately promised to do what was asked.

But after a short time they paid no attention to any of it. Therefore Philopoemen, when Hippias had laid down office and Alcetas had taken it up, granted those who asked permission to make reprisals on the Boeotians.

From this there arose between the two nations the beginning of a quarrel not easy to despise.

For at once [...] the herds of Myrrichus and Simon; and when there was a clash over this, the dispute ceased to be political and became the opening and first prelude of open war.

If the Senate had pressed the next step in the restoration of Zeuxippus and his party, war would quickly have burst into flame.

But as it was, the Senate let the matter drop, and the Megarians put a stop to the reprisals after envoys had been sent [...] the disputes.

Chapter 5 Quarrel Between Lycians and Rhodians

A quarrel arose between the Lycians and the Rhodians for the following reasons.

At the time when the ten commissioners were arranging affairs in Asia, envoys arrived from Rhodes, Theaetetus and Philophron, asking that Lycia and Caria should be granted to them in return for the goodwill and zeal they had shown in the war with Antiochus.

Envoys also came from the Ilians, Hipparchus and Satyrus, asking that out of regard for their kinship with the Lycians, pardon should be granted to the Lycians for their offenses.

After hearing both sides, the ten commissioners tried as far as possible to satisfy each party. For the sake of the Ilians they resolved to do nothing irreparable to the Lycians, but to gratify the Rhodians they assigned the Lycians to them as a gift.

This settlement became the source of a serious political division and quarrel between the Lycians and the Rhodians.

For the Ilians, as they went through the Lycian cities, reported that they had turned aside Roman anger and had become the authors of Lycian freedom.

But Theaetetus and his colleagues announced in their own country that Lycia and the parts of Caria as far as the Maeander had been granted by the Romans to the Rhodians as a free gift.

After this the Lycians sent envoys to Rhodes about an alliance, while the Rhodians selected some of their citizens and sent them out to give orders to the cities in Lycia and Caria about what each was to do.

Since the two sides understood the situation in entirely different ways, for some time the disagreement between them was not obvious to everyone.

But when the Lycian envoys entered the assembly and began speaking about an alliance, and after them Pothion the Rhodian prytanis stood up and made clear the intention of each side and sternly rebuked the Lycians [...]; for they said that they would endure anything rather than do what the Rhodians ordered.

Chapter 6 Envoys Accuse Philip Before the Senate

At the same time envoys came to Rome from King Eumenes to explain Philip's encroachments on the cities in Thrace.

The exiles from Maroneia also came, bringing accusations and laying the blame for their banishment on Philip.

Along with them came Athamanians, Perrhaebians, and Thessalians, insisting that the cities which Philip had taken from them during the war with Antiochus ought to be restored.

Envoys also arrived from Philip to answer all these accusers.

After many speeches had been made by all the parties just mentioned against Philip's envoys, the Senate decided at once to appoint a commission to examine Philip's conduct and to provide security for any who wished to speak openly in the king's presence and accuse him.

So Quintus Caecilius, Marcus Baebius, and Tiberius Claudius were appointed.

And it happened that the people of Aenus had long been torn by civil strife, and had lately divided, some inclining toward Eumenes and others toward Macedonia.

Chapter 7 Embassies Gather at the Achaean Assembly

In the Peloponnese, *says Polybius,* we have already explained how, while Philopoemen was still general, the Achaean nation sent envoys both to Rome on behalf of the city of the Spartans and to King Ptolemy to renew the alliance that already existed with him.

At the present time, when Aristaenus was general, envoys from King Ptolemy arrived while the Achaean assembly was in session at Megalopolis.

In addition to these, King Eumenes had sent envoys promising to give the Achaeans one hundred and twenty talents, on condition that the money should be lent out and the interest used to pay the Achaean council at the federal assemblies.

Envoys also came from King Seleucus to renew friendship and to promise the Achaeans a gift of ten decked warships.

When the assembly entered on business, the first to speak were Nicodemus of Elis and his colleagues, who explained to the Achaeans what they had said in the Senate on behalf of Sparta and read out the replies.

From these replies one could gather that the Senate disapproved of both the [...] of the walls and the abolition [...] of those killed at Compasium, yet did not mean to invalidate any of the measures taken.

Since no one either spoke against this or supported it, the matter was allowed to pass in that fashion.

After them the envoys from Eumenes entered, renewed the ancestral alliance, and explained to the crowd the king's offer of money.

After speaking further on these subjects and making the king's goodwill and generosity toward the nation plain, they ended their address.

Chapter 8 The Achaeans Refuse Eumenes's Gift

After they had ended, Apollonidas of Sicyon stood up and said that, in view of the amount of the money being offered, the gift was worthy of the Achaeans; but in view of the giver's purpose and of the use for which it was intended, it was the most disgraceful and illegal of all gifts.

For since the laws forbade any man, private citizen or magistrate, to accept gifts from a king on any pretext whatever, it would be utterly unlawful for them all openly to accept this money and so all together to take bribes; and besides that, it would plainly be shameful.

For the council to draw yearly pay from Eumenes and then deliberate about public matters after swallowing such a bait had in it an obvious disgrace and an obvious injury.

For now Eumenes was offering money, but after him Prusias would do so, and after that Seleucus again.

Since the interests of kings and of democracies are opposed in character, and since most of our greatest deliberations are always about matters in dispute between ourselves and kings, it is plainly inevitable that either the advantage of the kings will come to outweigh our own interest, or else, if that does not happen, we shall appear ungrateful to all men by opposing those who pay our wages.

Therefore he urged the Achaeans not only to refuse the offer, but even to hate Eumenes for conceiving such a gift.

After him Cassander of Aegina rose and reminded the Achaeans of the misfortune that had befallen the Aeginetans because they shared citizenship with the Achaeans, when Publius Sulpicius sailed in with his fleet and sold the poor Aeginetans into slavery.

We have already explained how the Aetolians, after gaining control of the city by treaty with Rome, handed it over to Attalus for thirty talents.

So, setting these facts before the eyes of the Achaeans, he urged that Eumenes should not try to hunt for Achaean goodwill by offering things of a different kind, but should win every expression of gratitude beyond dispute by giving the city back.

And he urged the Achaeans not to accept such gifts, by which they would show themselves to be cutting off for the future every hope of safety for the Aeginetans.

When such speeches had been made, the crowd was so moved that no one dared speak in support of the king; instead everyone shouted together and drove away the proposed gift, although the amount offered made it hard to look away from.

Chapter 9 Aristaenus Questions the Ptolemaic Alliance

After the matters already mentioned, the assembly took up the question of Ptolemy.

The envoys sent by the Achaeans to Ptolemy were called forward, and Lycortas came out with his fellow envoys and first explained how they had given and received the oaths of alliance.

Next he stated that they were bringing, as a gift for the Achaeans collectively, six thousand bronze peltast shields and two hundred talents of stamped bronze coin.

Besides this he praised the king, and after saying a few words about his goodwill and zeal toward the nation, he brought his speech to an end.

Then Aristaenus, the Achaean general, stood up and asked both the envoy from Ptolemy and the men sent by the Achaeans for the renewal exactly what alliance it was that they had renewed.

Since no one answered, and everyone began talking among themselves, the council chamber was full of bewilderment.

The reason for this absurdity was as follows. The Achaeans had more than one alliance with the kingdom of Ptolemy, and these differed greatly according to the circumstances of the times.

Yet the envoy from Ptolemy had made no distinction when he renewed it, but had spoken about the matter only in general terms, and the envoys sent from Achaea had done the same.

Acting as though there were only one alliance, they had both given the oath themselves and received it from the king.

Therefore, when the general produced all the alliances and distinguished them one by one, showing how great the differences were, the crowd demanded to know which one had been renewed.

Neither Philopoemen, who had held office when the renewal was made, nor Lycortas and the other envoys to Alexandria were able to give an explanation.

So these men seemed to have handled public business carelessly, while Aristaenus gained a great reputation as the only man who knew what he was saying; and in the end he did not allow the proposal to be ratified, but postponed it because of the blunder just described.

When the envoys from Seleucus entered, the Achaeans resolved to renew friendship with Seleucus, but for the present to decline the gift of the ships.

Having deliberated on these matters, they then broke up and each returned to his own city.

Chapter 10 A Meeting of the Achaean League Parliament

After this, while the festival was at its height, Quintus Caecilius came from Macedonia on his way back from the embassy on which he had gone to Philip.

Aristaenus the general gathered the magistrates in the city of Argos, and when Quintus entered he reproached them, saying that they had dealt with the Spartans more heavily and bitterly than was

right, and urged them at length to correct the earlier mistake.

Aristaenus remained silent, making it plain by that very silence that he was dissatisfied with what had been done and approved what Caecilius said.

But Diophanes of Megalopolis, a man more soldierly than statesmanlike, stood up and, far from making any defense of the Achaeans, actually suggested to Caecilius, out of his friction with Philopoemen, another accusation against the Achaeans.

For he said that not only had Spartan affairs been mishandled, but so had those of Messene.

In fact there were among the Messenians certain disputes with one another about the matter of the exiles, involving the decree of Titus and Philopoemen's settlement of it.

So Caecilius, thinking that even among the Achaeans themselves he had some men who agreed with him, was all the more annoyed that those who had gathered did not readily follow his advice.

But Philopoemen and Lycortas, and with them Archon, set forth many various arguments to show that the settlement at Sparta had been made rightly and with advantage, most of all for the Spartans themselves, and that it was impossible to disturb any of the existing arrangements without violating both justice toward men and reverence toward the gods.

Therefore those present decided to stand by the existing arrangements and to give the envoy that answer.

Seeing their attitude, Caecilius demanded that the people be assembled in a public meeting.

But the Achaean magistrates told him to produce the instructions that he had from the Senate on these matters. Since he kept silent, they said they would not convene the assembly for him.

For, they said, their laws did not allow it unless a man brought written instructions from the Senate about the matter on which he thought the assembly ought to be called.

Caecilius became so angry because none of his demands was granted that he would not even accept the magistrates' answer, but departed without receiving any answer at all.

The Achaeans laid the blame both for the earlier visit together with Marcus Fulvius and for the present one of Caecilius upon Aristaenus and Diophanes, saying that through their rivalry with Philopoemen they had drawn the Romans in.

And many in the crowd felt suspicion toward those men. Such, then, was the condition of affairs in the Peloponnese.

Chapter 11 The Senate Hears Envoys on Macedonia and Sparta

Olympiad 148, year 2. Affairs in Italy.

After the envoys with Caecilius had withdrawn from Greece and had made the Senate fully aware of affairs in Macedonia and the Peloponnese, the Senate introduced the envoys who had come on these matters.

First entered those from Philip and from Eumenes, and also the exiles from Aenus and Maroneia; and when they spoke in a way consistent with what had already been said before Caecilius and his colleagues at Thessalonica, the Senate decided to send other envoys again to Philip, to see first whether he had given up the cities in Thessaly and Perrhaebia in accordance with the answer he had made to Caecilius and his colleagues, and then to order him to withdraw the garrisons from Aenus and Maroneia, and in general to depart from the coastal strongholds, places, and cities of Thrace.

After these men, they introduced those who had arrived from the Peloponnese.

For the Achaeans had sent envoys headed by Apollonidas of Sicyon to explain to Caecilius why he had received no answer and more generally to instruct the Senate about the Spartan business.

And from Sparta Areus and Alcibiades had come as envoys; these were among the old exiles who had recently been restored to their country by Philopoemen and the Achaeans.

This above all stirred the Achaeans to anger, because it seemed to them a monstrous ingratitude that men who had so recently received such a great benefit should proceed immediately to an embassy of accusation against the very rulers who had unexpectedly saved them and brought them home again.

Chapter 12 Achaeans and Spartans Plead Before the Senate

After these men too had made their opposing defenses in agreement with one another, and had instructed the Senate—those with Apollonidas of Sicyon trying to show that Spartan affairs could not possibly have been handled better than the Achaeans and Philopoemen had handled them, while those with Areus tried to say the opposite, alleging first that the city's power had been broken by the forcible removal of the multitude, and second that the constitution left behind among those who remained was insecure and speechless, insecure because they were few and their walls had been torn down, and speechless because they not only had to obey the common decrees of the Achaeans but also had to serve individually whatever magistrates were from time to time set over them— after hearing these men as well, the Senate decided to give the same envoys instructions on these matters too, and appointed Appius Claudius and his colleagues as envoys to Macedonia and Greece.

The envoys from the Achaeans also defended the magistrates before Caecilius in the Senate, saying that they had done nothing wrong and deserved no accusation for not summoning the assembly.

For among the Achaeans, they said, there was a law not to call together the people unless a deliberation had to be held about alliance or war, or unless someone brought letters from the Senate.

Therefore the magistrates had acted rightly in deciding at that time to summon the Achaeans to an assembly, but were prevented by the laws because Caecilius neither brought letters from the Senate

nor was willing to give the magistrates his instructions in writing.

When this had been said, Caecilius rose and accused Philopoemen and Lycortas, and in general the Achaeans and the policy they had pursued toward the city of Sparta.

After hearing what was said, the Senate gave the Achaeans this answer: on Spartan affairs it would send commissioners to examine the matter.

And it advised the Achaeans to pay close attention to the envoys whom it sent out from time to time and to give them the reception that was fitting, just as the Romans themselves did for envoys who came to them.

Chapter 13 Philip Massacres the Maronites

Affairs in Macedonia.

When King Philip learned, from messages sent to him by his own envoys from Rome, that he would necessarily have to withdraw from the cities in Thrace, he took it badly, feeling that his power was being cut away on every side, and vented his anger on the wretched people of Maroneia.

For he summoned Onomastus, the officer placed over Thrace, and discussed the business with him.

Onomastus then withdrew and sent Cassander to Maroneia, since he was familiar to many there because he spent most of his time in that city.

Philip had long made a practice of placing courtiers in these cities and of making the inhabitants accustomed to their visits.

After some days, when the Thracians had been prepared and had been secretly brought in by Cassander during the night, a great slaughter took place and many of the Maronites were killed.

Having punished those who opposed him in this way and satisfied his own rage, Philip waited for the arrival of the envoys, convinced that no one would dare accuse him because of fear.

But after some time Appius and his colleagues arrived, quickly learned what had happened at Maroneia, and reproached Philip harshly for it.

Philip wanted to defend himself, saying that he had taken no part in the outrage, but that the Maronites themselves had fallen into this disaster because they were divided by civil conflict, some leaning in goodwill toward Eumenes and others toward him.

And he ordered that, if anyone accused him, he should be brought face to face with him.

He did this because he was convinced that no one would dare, since those who opposed him thought Philip's punishment was close at hand, while Roman help was far away.

But Appius and his colleagues replied that they had no need of his defense, since they knew perfectly well what had happened and who was responsible.

At this Philip was thrown into confusion, and so the first interview ended there.

Chapter 14 Philip Poisons Cassander and Sends Demetrius

On the following day Appius and his colleagues ordered Philip to send both Onomastus and Cassander at once to Rome, so that the Senate might learn the truth of what had happened.

The king, utterly shaken and at a loss for a long time, said that he would send Cassander, the man who, as they said, had actually carried out the deed, so that the Senate might learn the facts from him.

But he asked that Onomastus be excused, both on that occasion and later in his interviews with the envoys, using as his pretext that Onomastus had not been in Maroneia at the time of the massacre, nor even anywhere near the neighboring district.

In reality he feared that, if Onomastus appeared at Rome, since he had shared with him in many similar actions, he would reveal to the Romans not only the business at Maroneia but every other matter as well.

In the end he procured the exemption of Onomastus, but after the envoys had departed he sent Cassander off and escorted him as far as Epirus, where he had him killed with poison.

Appius and his colleagues, however, left Philip having already judged him guilty both of the lawless act against the Maronites and of estrangement from Rome.

When the king was again by himself, and shared the situation with his friends Apelles and Philocles, he clearly recognized that his quarrel with the Romans had advanced a long way, and that it was no longer hidden but plain to most people.

In general he was eager to defend himself and to take revenge on them by every means; but because he was not yet ready for some of the plans he had in mind, he turned his attention to how there might still be some reversal of the situation and some gain of time for preparations for war.

So he decided to send his youngest son Demetrius to Rome, partly to make a defense against the charges, and partly to ask pardon as well, if in any respect some mistake had occurred on his side.

For he was thoroughly convinced that through Demetrius he would obtain everything he wanted from the Senate, because of the exceptional favor shown to the young man during his time as a hostage.

Having formed this plan, he set himself at once to arranging the dispatch of Demetrius and of the friends who were to be sent with him.

At the same time he promised help to the Byzantines, not so much because he cared about them as because, under cover of their cause, he wanted to overawe the Thracian dynasts who lived beyond the

Propontis and so advance the design he had in mind.

Chapter 15 Appius Settles Disputes in Crete

In Crete, while Cydas son of Antalces was cosmus at Gortyn, the Gortynians, since they were doing everything possible to weaken the Cnossians, cut off parts of their territory, assigning the district called Lycastium to the Rhaucii and Diatonium to the Lyctians.

About this time envoys from Rome, Appius and his colleagues, arrived in Crete to settle the disputes then existing among the Cretans. After speaking on these matters before the Cnossians and Gortynians, they persuaded the Cretans to entrust their affairs to Appius and his commission.

They restored the territory to the Cnossians, and ordered the Cydoniatae to recover the hostages whom they had formerly left behind in the hands of Charmion, and to surrender Phalasarna without removing anything from it.

As for participation in the common judicial system, they granted that those who wished might share in it.

Those who did not wish might also stand apart.

But in that case they, together with the exiles from Phalasarna, were to keep away from the rest of Crete altogether; and after a gap in the text, we are told that they killed Menoetius and his associates, men of the highest standing among the citizens.

Chapter 16 Philip's Clemency and Ptolemy's Cruelty

Calling this man king and blood of gods [...] making use of [...] that they would obtain some pity and pardon for [...] the king [...]; [...] and indeed more kingly [...]; for it was better to be betrayed by others than himself to be the first to break his pledges, and indeed to be wronged rather than [...] and they say that men [...] share the sufferings of the unjust [...] to be nearest to the divine nature [...] to obtain honors [...]; for no god is the first to do harm to men [...].

[...] all men admire Philip for his [...] greatness of spirit: although he suffered evil treatment, and not merely abuse, from the Athenians, yet after defeating them in the battle at Chaeronea he was so far from using the occasion to injure his enemies that he buried the Athenian dead with due rites, and the prisoners he clothed and sent back to their families without ransom.

Yet men imitate such conduct least of all; instead they compete in anger and punishments against those with whom they are at war, for that very reason.

[...] Ptolemy, however, bound the men naked to carts, dragged them along, and after inflicting punishment killed them.

Chapter 17 Ptolemy Betrays the Egyptian Rebels

When King Ptolemy of Egypt laid siege to the city of Lycopolis, the Egyptian dynasts were terrified by what had happened and surrendered themselves to the king's good faith.

He treated them cruelly, and thereby brought himself into many dangers.

Something similar happened again at the time when Polycrates subdued the rebels.

For Athinis, Pausiras, Chesuphus, and Irobastus, who were still surviving among the dynasts, yielded to circumstances and came to Sais, committing themselves to the king's protection.

But Ptolemy broke faith with them, tied the men naked to carts, dragged them along, and then put them to death after punishment.

Then he came with his army to Naucratis; and when Aristonicus presented to him the mercenary troops he had recruited in Greece, he accepted them and sailed away to Alexandria.

He had taken no part in the actual operations of the war because of Polycrates' misguided policy, though he was already twenty-five years old.

Chapter 18 Pretexts versus Causes of the Macedonian War

Olympiad 148, year 4. Affairs in Macedonia and Greece.

Polybius says in the twenty-second book that already from this time there began to grow for the royal house in Macedonia the beginning of disasters beyond remedy.

I am not unaware that some historians, when they wish to show us the causes of the war that arose between the Romans and Perseus, first point to the expulsion of Abrupolis from his own principality, after he had raided the mines around Pangaeum following Philip's death.

Perseus came to the rescue, defeated him, and completely drove him out of his dominion.

After that they cite the invasion of Dolopia and the appearance of Perseus at Delphi, and further the plot laid against King Eumenes at Delphi and the murder of the envoys from Boeotia, from which some say the war of Perseus against the Romans sprang.

But I maintain that it is of the highest importance both for writers and for serious learners to know the causes from which each event is generated and grows; yet most historians confuse these matters because they fail to keep hold of the distinction between a pretext and a cause, and again between a pretext and the beginning of a war.

And now, since the events themselves remind me of this, I have been compelled to renew the same discussion.

For of the matters just mentioned, the earlier ones are pretexts; but the later ones—the plot against King Eumenes, the murder of the envoys, and other similar things that happened at the same time—are obvious beginnings of the war that arose between the Romans and Perseus and of the overthrow of Macedonian power.

But in the strict sense none of these is its cause. This will be clear from what follows.

For just as we say that Philip son of Amyntas conceived and determined upon carrying out the war against the Persians, while Alexander became the executor of the enterprises his father had resolved on, so too now we say that Philip son of Demetrius first conceived the last war against Rome and had all the preparations ready for this design, while after his death Perseus became the man who carried the plan into action.

If this is true, then this too is clear: the causes cannot have arisen later than the death of the man who resolved upon and planned the war. Yet that is what follows from the account of the other historians, since everything they mention took place after Philip's death.

Chapter 19 Philopoemen Praises Archon's Cunning

Philopoemen had some disagreement in argument with Archon the general. Philopoemen, however, being pleased at the moment by what had been said and changing his mind, praised Archon warmly as a man who had handled the occasion with both skill and cunning.

But for my own part, *says Polybius,* the remark did not please me then when I was present, since it amounted to praising a man while at the same time doing him moral harm; nor has it pleased me since, as my years have advanced.

For it seems to me that there is a very great difference in moral choice between a practical statesman and a mischievous intriguer, just as there is a similar difference between genuine dexterity and mere clever roguery. The one set of qualities is, so to speak, among the noblest of human things; the other is the very opposite.

But because of the lack of judgment now common among men, the things just mentioned, though they have very little in common, receive the same approval and the same eager admiration.

Chapter 20 Apollonias, Widow of Attalus

Affairs in Asia.

Apollonis, the wife of Attalus, father of King Eumenes, was a woman of Cyzicus and for many reasons worthy of remembrance and distinction.

For the fact that, though she was originally a private citizen, she became a queen and preserved that exalted place to the very end—not by the attractions of a courtesan, but by modesty, dignity in public

life, and noble character—makes her deserve an honorable memory.

And further, though she outlived her husband by no short time, after bearing four sons she preserved toward all of them unsurpassed goodwill and motherly affection down to the end of her life.

Her sons won a fine reputation during their visit by rendering their mother the gratitude and honor that were her due.

For taking their mother between them by both hands, they escorted her around the sanctuaries and through the city with all due attendance.

At this sight the spectators were greatly moved.

They welcomed and honored the young men, and recalling the story of Cleobis and Biton, compared their conduct with theirs, giving to the splendor of those old examples a further height through the lofty rank of kings.

This happened at Cyzicus after the settlement with King Prusias.

Chapter 21 Ortiagon Tries to Become King of All the Galatians

Ortiagon the Galatian, king of the Galatians in Asia, set his mind on transferring to himself the sovereignty of all the Galatians.

He possessed many resources for this aim, both by nature and by experience.

For he was generous, high-minded, gracious in personal dealings, and intelligent.

And what counted most among the Galatians, he was manly and capable in matters of war.

Chapter 22 Aristonicus

Affairs in Egypt.

Aristonicus, the eunuch of Ptolemy king of Egypt, had been brought up with the king from childhood.

As he grew older, he showed a courage and cast of mind more manly than one would expect in a eunuch.

For he was by nature a soldierly man and spent most of his time in such pursuits.

He was likewise effective in his dealings with others and possessed sound common sense, which is rare.

Besides all this, he was naturally well disposed toward acts of kindness to other people.

Book XXIII

The death of Philopoemen, 'the last of the Greeks', in the treasury dungeon of Messene (183 BC). Book XXIII, 12.

Chapter 1 Demetrius Before the Senate

Olympiad 149, year 1. Affairs in Italy.

In the 149th Olympiad an exceptionally large number of embassies gathered at Rome from Greece, more than had usually been seen before.

For Philip had been compelled, under the treaty, to submit disputes with his neighbors to legal arbitration; and when it became known that the Romans were ready to hear accusations against him and were taking care for the safety of those who had claims against the king, all the peoples bordering on Macedonia appeared, some in a private capacity, some representing cities, and some entire ethnic groups, bringing charges against Philip.

Along with them came envoys from Eumenes, accompanied by Athenaeus, the king's brother, to accuse Philip concerning the cities in Thrace and the military aid sent to Prusias.

Demetrius, Philip's son, also arrived to answer all these complainants, bringing with him Apelles and Philocles, who were then considered the foremost of the king's friends.

Envoys came from the Spartans as well, one from each political group in the city.

The Senate first summoned Athenaeus. It accepted the crown he brought, worth fifteen thousand gold staters, warmly praised Eumenes and his brothers in its reply, and urged them to remain steadfast in the same policy.

After that the magistrates brought in Demetrius and invited all Philip's accusers to speak, calling them forward one embassy at a time.

But the embassies were so numerous, and their appearances lasted for three days, that the Senate found itself at a loss over how each individual case should be handled.

Envoys had come from Thessaly both collectively and separately from each city; so too from the Perrhaebians, the Athamanians, the Epirotes, and the Illyrians.

Some were contesting territory, some persons, some livestock, and others contracts or private wrongs committed against them.

Some said they could not obtain justice under the treaty because Philip blocked the legal process, while others attacked the judgments already given as corrupted, alleging that Philip had bribed the judges.

Altogether the accusations were so varied and tangled that they were difficult to sort out.

Chapter 2 Demetrius in the Senate

So the Senate, unable itself to disentangle the issues and judging that Demetrius ought not to be required to answer each charge one by one, especially since it felt kindly toward him and saw that he was still very young and far from equal to such a knot of complicated business, and since above all it wanted not to hear Demetrius' advocacy but to learn Philip's real intentions, released Demetrius from pleading the cases and instead asked the young man and the friends with him whether they had any written memorandum from the king about these matters.

Demetrius said that they did, and when he produced a small document the Senate ordered him to state the substance of the written instructions, giving a summary of Philip's answer to each accusation.

In it Philip claimed either that he had done what the Romans ordered, or that, if something had not been done, the blame lay with his accusers.

To most of the responses he had also added phrases such as, "and yet Caecilius and the envoys with him did not treat us fairly in this matter," or again, "and yet we are suffering this unjustly."

Since this attitude of Philip's ran through all the replies, the Senate, after hearing the men who had come, adopted a single decision covering the whole business.

Through the presiding magistrate it received Demetrius with great honor and kindness, addressed him in many encouraging words, and replied that it trusted that in all the matters mentioned by him, whether spoken aloud or read from the memorandum, what was right had been done or would be done.

But, it added, so that Philip too might understand that the Senate was granting this favor for Demetrius' sake, it would send envoys to inspect whether everything was being carried out in accordance with the Senate's wishes, and at the same time to make clear to the king that he was receiving this considerate treatment because of Demetrius.

That was how this affair was settled.

Chapter 3 Philip's Jealousy Roused

After these men, the envoys from Eumenes were admitted. They accused Philip both for the aid he had sent to Prusias and for his conduct in Thrace, saying that even now he had not withdrawn his garrisons from the cities there.

Philocles wished to reply on these points, since he had served as envoy to Prusias and had now been sent by Philip to the Senate on this business.

But the Senate listened only briefly and answered that, unless the envoys found everything in Thrace arranged according to the Senate's decision and all the cities handed back under the control of Eumenes, it could no longer tolerate continued disobedience in that region.

Thus the growing tension between Philip and Rome was for the moment checked by Demetrius' presence.

Yet this embassy of the young prince contributed no little to the eventual ruin of the royal house.

For the Senate, by placing its favor so openly in Demetrius, lifted the young man up, but deeply offended both Perseus and Philip, since it seemed that the Romans were showing kindness not for their sakes but for Demetrius'.

Titus too, by drawing the young man aside and advancing him through private conversations, greatly helped the same development.

He flattered Demetrius by suggesting that the Romans would soon establish him on the throne, and he irritated Philip's circle by writing that Demetrius should be sent again to Rome with as many of his friends as possible, and those of the greatest usefulness.

By taking advantage of these openings Perseus soon persuaded his father to consent to Demetrius' death.

I will explain in the following narrative how all this was managed in detail.

Chapter 4 The Spartan Ambassadors

After this the envoys from Sparta were called in. There were four different parties among them.

The group led by Lysis spoke on behalf of the old exiles, arguing that they should recover all the property from which they had originally gone into exile.

Areus and Alcibiades, by contrast, proposed that each exile should receive property worth one talent out of his former holdings, while the rest should be distributed among those worthy of citizenship.

Serippus argued that the existing constitutional arrangement should remain in place, the same one under which Sparta had once shared citizenship with the Achaeans.

Representatives of those who had been executed or banished under decrees of the Achaeans, headed by Chaeron, appeared as well, demanding permission to return and the restoration of the constitution in that form, [...] they addressed arguments regarding the Achaeans suited to their own particular causes.

Since the Senate could not reach a clear judgment on the separate disputes, it appointed three men who had already before this been sent to the Peloponnese on these matters: Titus, Quintus Caecilius, and Appius Claudius.

After considerable discussion before them, all agreed that the exiles and the men condemned to death should be restored, and that Sparta should remain associated with the Achaean League.

But they disputed with one another over the property, namely whether each exile ought to select from his former estate goods worth a talent, [...] and so that they might not begin the whole controversy over again from the start, a written record was drawn up of the points agreed on, [...] and all affixed their seals to it.

Titus and his colleagues, wishing also to bind the Achaeans into the agreement, summoned Xenarchus and those with him.

These men were then acting as envoys from the Achaeans, partly to renew the alliance and partly to attend to the Spartan dispute.

Unexpectedly asked whether they assented to what had been written, they found themselves in difficulty.

For they were displeased at the restoration of the exiles and the condemned, since this ran contrary to Achaean decrees and to the inscribed tablet; yet they approved the document as a whole because it stated that Sparta must remain united politically with the Achaeans.

So, torn between perplexity on the one side and awe of these Roman commissioners on the other, they too set their seal to it.

The Senate then selected Quintus Marcius as envoy and sent him both to Macedonia and to the Peloponnese.

Chapter 5 Deinocrates of Messene

When Deinocrates the Messenian arrived at Rome as an envoy and found that Titus had been appointed by the Senate as envoy to Prusias and Seleucus, he was delighted, thinking that Titus, both because of their friendship— for the two had become close during the war in Laconia—and because of his quarrel with Philopoemen, would come to Greece and manage all Messenian affairs according to Deinocrates' own wishes.

So he put everything else aside, attached himself closely to Titus, and rested all his hopes on him.

This Deinocrates of Messene was by practice, and also by nature, a man fit for camp and court.

He gave the appearance of complete political ability, but the appearance was false and superficial.

In military matters, through readiness and boldness, he surpassed most men and was brilliant in personal danger.

In ordinary society too he was agreeable and easy in conversation, lively and urbane in company, and at the same time much given to love affairs.

But in public or political business—fixing his attention firmly, foreseeing the future with confidence, making preparations, and speaking effectively before a crowd—he was incapable from start to finish.

Even then, though he had set great evils in motion for his homeland, he thought he was doing nothing of real consequence. He went on living in the same way as before, foreseeing nothing, carried away by romance, drinking-parties, and entertainments day after day.

Titus, however, forced him to catch at least some brief glimpse of the seriousness of the crisis.

For once, seeing him at a drinking-party dancing in long robes, Titus said nothing at the time; but the next day, when Deinocrates met him and made some request concerning his country, he replied, “Deinocrates, I will do everything I can. But I am amazed that you can dance after drinking, when you have set such serious troubles in motion among the Greeks.”

At that moment he seems to have drawn himself together a little and to have learned that he had set before himself an undertaking ill suited to his own inclination and nature.

Even so, he came to Greece with Titus convinced that, in a single stroke, Messenian affairs would be arranged according to his own wishes.

But Philopoemen and his circle clearly understood that Titus had received no instructions from the Senate concerning Greek affairs, and so they remained quiet, simply waiting for his arrival.

After Titus landed at Naupactus he wrote to the Achaean general and the demiourgoi, ordering them to summon the Achaeans to an assembly.

They wrote back that they would do so if he first stated in writing what subjects he wished to discuss with the Achaeans, since the laws required magistrates to specify this.

As Titus did not dare to write that down, the hopes of Deinocrates and of the so-called old exiles—who had in fact only recently been driven out of Sparta—and in general the whole expectation raised by Titus’ arrival, all collapsed in this way.

Chapter 6 Ambassadors from the Spartan Exiles

Affairs in Greece.

At about the same time envoys were sent to Rome by the Spartan exiles, among them Arcesilaus and Agesipolis, who, though still a boy, had once become king at Sparta.

Some pirates fell upon these men at sea and killed them, but the others appointed with them made their way safely to Rome.

Chapter 7 Philip and Perseus are Jealous of Demetrius

Affairs in Macedonia.

When Demetrius returned from Rome to Macedonia bringing the Roman replies, in which the Romans placed all their favor and confidence in him and declared that whatever they had done or would do was being done for his sake, the Macedonians welcomed Demetrius warmly, believing that they had been released from great fears and dangers— for they expected the war from Rome to break upon them very soon because of Philip's obstructive conduct— but Philip and Perseus were not pleased by what was happening. They did not like it that the Romans seemed to pay no attention to them, but to ascribe all their goodwill to Demetrius.

Philip concealed his displeasure, but Perseus, who was far inferior to his brother not only in his goodwill toward Rome but in almost every other respect as well, both by nature and by training, took it badly.

What weighed on him most was his fear for the succession, lest, despite being the elder, he should be pushed aside for the reasons already mentioned.

Therefore he began to corrupt the friends of Demetrius [...].

Chapter 8 Philip Campaigns in Thrace

When Quintus Marcius and his colleagues came on embassy to Macedonia, Philip withdrew entirely from the Greek cities in Thrace and removed his garrisons, though he did so in bitterness and with many groans.

He also set in order all the other matters on which the Romans were giving commands, wanting to show them no sign of estrangement while gaining time to turn back to preparations for war.

In pursuit of this design he led an army out against the barbarians.

Marching through the heart of Thrace, he invaded the lands of the Odrysae, the Bessi, and the Dentheletae.

When he reached the city called Philippopolis, the inhabitants fled up into the high ground, and he seized the city in a sudden attack.

After this he overran the whole plain, plundering some places and taking pledges from others, and then returned, leaving a garrison in Philippopolis.

But after some time that garrison was expelled by the Odrysae, who broke the pledges they had given the king.

Chapter 9 The Senate Refuses to Help Either Messene or Achaea

Olympiad 149, year 2. Affairs in Italy.

In the second year the Senate, after embassies had arrived from Eumenes, Pharnaces, Philip, the Achaean nation, the Spartans who had been expelled from their city, and also those who still held Sparta, dealt with their business.

Envoys from Rhodes also came on behalf of the misfortune that had befallen the people of Sinope.

To them, and also to the envoys of Eumenes and Pharnaces, the Senate replied that it would send representatives to inspect the situation at Sinope and the matters disputed between the kings.

Since Quintus Marcius had recently returned from Greece and had already made matters clear concerning Macedonia and the Peloponnese, the Senate had no need of many more speeches.

So, after calling in the envoys from the Peloponnese and Macedonia, it listened to what they said, but based its replies and settlement of the issues not on the ambassadors' speeches, but on Marcius' report.

For with regard to King Philip, he had reported that Philip had indeed carried out the commands laid upon him, but had done everything resentfully, and that, if he got the chance, he would do anything against Rome.

Therefore the Senate gave Philip's envoys a reply of this sort: it praised Philip for what he had done, but thought he must be careful from now on not to seem to act in any way contrary to Roman interests.

About Peloponnesian affairs Marcius had reported that the Achaeans did not want to refer anything to the Senate, but carried themselves proudly and undertook to manage everything on their own.

He said that if the Romans would for the moment merely disregard their wishes and show even a slight sign of displeasure, Sparta would quickly align itself with Messene, and then the Achaeans would come running to Rome with great eagerness.

Accordingly, to the Spartans under Serippus the Senate replied—wanting to keep the city in suspense—that it had done everything it could for them, but did not at present think this matter belonged before itself.

And when the Achaeans asked either, if possible, for help under the alliance against the Messenians, or at least for precautions to prevent anyone from Italy from importing arms or grain into Messene, the Senate paid attention to neither request.

Instead it answered that, even if the people of Sparta or Corinth or Argos should break away, the Achaeans should not be surprised if they were not conducting their leadership in a way acceptable to Rome.

By publishing this reply, which amounted to a public invitation to anyone wishing, under Roman protection, to revolt from the Achaean constitution, the Senate then kept the envoys in Rome, waiting to see how matters at Messene would turn out for the Achaeans.

Such was the situation in Italy.

Chapter 10 Philip's Desperate Measures

Affairs in Macedonia.

At this time some dreadful beginning of troubles fell upon King Philip and upon all Macedonia, something well worth observing and remembering.

It was as though Fortune had resolved at the proper moment to exact from him punishment for all the impieties and crimes he had committed in the course of his life, and therefore had set before him avenging spirits, penalties, and the ghosts of those ruined through him.

Staying with him night and day, these torments punished him until life left him, so that everyone was compelled to admit the truth of the proverb that Justice has an eye, and that human beings should never despise it.

First they planted in him the idea that, if he meant to go to war with Rome, he should uproot the leading men from the most distinguished and coastal cities, together with their wives and children, and transfer them inland to the region then called Emathia, but formerly Paeonia, and should fill those cities with Thracians and other barbarians, on the assumption that their loyalty would be firmer in a crisis.

As this was carried out and people were torn from their homes, there arose such grief and such an uproar that the whole country seemed like a land taken by the spear.

Curses and appeals to heaven against the king were uttered not only in secret now, but openly.

After this, wanting to leave nothing alien or hostile in the kingdom, he wrote to the officials set over the cities ordering them to search out the sons and daughters of the Macedonians he had put to death and place them under guard, especially meaning those connected with Admetus, Pyrrhichus, Samus, and the others who had perished with them.

At the same time he included all the rest who had been deprived of life by royal command, quoting, it is said, this verse:

"A fool, who kills the father and leaves the sons behind."

Since most of these were prominent because of their fathers' rank, their misfortune too became conspicuous and pitiful to all.

Fortune introduced a third act into the drama at the same period, namely the matter of Philip's sons.

As the young men plotted against one another, and reports of this were brought before him, he was tortured by having to decide which of his sons he must become the killer of, and which one he had more reason to fear for the rest of his life, lest in old age he should suffer something similar himself.

With his mind in such distress and turmoil, who would not reasonably conclude that some divine wrath had descended upon his old age because of the lawless deeds of his earlier life?

This will become even clearer from what follows.

Philip king of the Macedonians, after killing many Macedonians, also killed their sons, repeating, they say, the same verse:

“A fool, who kills the father and leaves the sons behind.”

[…]

And because his soul was driven almost mad by these things, the quarrel between his sons was enflamed along with all the troubles already described, Fortune seeming intentionally to bring all these disasters onto the stage at one and the same time.

The Macedonians make offerings to Xanthus and carry out a purification with horses in full armor.

Chapter 11 Philip Addresses his Sons

“One must not merely read tragedies, myths, and histories, but also understand them and apply one’s mind to this lesson.

In all of them one may see that brothers who fall into anger and rivalry against each other and let it run too far destroy not only themselves, but utterly ruin their households, their children, and their cities.

But all those who have had the moderation to cherish one another and to bear with each other’s failings prove the preservers of all these things and live out their lives with the noblest reputation and glory.

I have often directed your attention to the kings at Sparta, telling you that they preserved for their fatherland the leadership of Greece for just as long as, obeying the ephors as though they were parents, they endured sharing the kingship with one another.

But when they quarrelled and turned the government into monarchy, then they made Sparta taste every kind of evil.

And finally, as if showing you a visible example and placing it before your eyes, I continually pointed to Eumenes and Attalus, who inherited a small and insignificant dominion and enlarged it until it was inferior to none, for no other reason than their harmony with one another, their agreement, and their ability to preserve mutual respect.

Yet, though you heard all this, you did not take it to heart; on the contrary, as it seems to me, you were sharpening your anger against each other.”

Chapter 12 The Fall of Philopoemen

Affairs in Greece.

Polybius says that he rose and went on ahead, weighed down partly by sickness and partly by age, for he was in his seventieth year.

But mastering his weakness by force of his old habit, he came from Argos to Megalopolis in a single day. —

Philopoemen, general of the Achaeans, was captured by the Messenians and killed with poison, a man inferior to none of his predecessors in virtue, though weaker than Fortune, even though throughout his earlier life she had seemed to work with him.

It seems to me that the common proverb is right: a human being may meet with success, but to be successful to the very end is impossible.

Therefore we should call the men of old fortunate, not as though any of them enjoyed unbroken good fortune—for why should we vainly flatter Fortune with a false phrase?— but rather those who have had her favorable for the longest part of life, and who, when she does change her mind, encounter only moderate disasters. —

[...] Lycortas, who was in no way inferior to him. —

Philopoemen, after seeking distinction continuously for forty years in a democratic and many-sided political system, completely escaped the envy of the masses in every respect, though for the most part he conducted public affairs not by courting favor, but with frankness. And that is something one would rarely find. —

Chapter 13 Character of Hannibal

It is remarkable, and the strongest possible sign that this man was born to command and was far superior to others in practical ability, that although he spent seventeen years in the field, passed through numerous barbarian peoples, and employed many foreign and differently-speaking men in enterprises that seemed desperate and astonishing, not one of those who once shared his plans and entrusted themselves to him ever plotted against him or deserted him.

Chapter 14 Character of P. Cornelius Scipio Africanus

Publius, after pursuing distinction in an aristocratic constitution, won such goodwill from the masses and such trust from the Senate that, when someone undertook to prosecute him before the people according to Roman custom and made many harsh and bitter accusations, he came forward and said only that it was not fitting for the Roman people to listen to anyone accusing Publius Cornelius Scipio, the man through whom the accusers themselves possessed the freedom to speak.

On hearing this, the crowd at once broke up and all left the assembly, leaving the accuser there alone. —

On another occasion, when in the Senate there was a need for money for an urgent public purpose, and the quaestor said that because of a certain law he would not open the treasury on that day, Scipio said that he himself would take the keys and open it, for he himself had been the cause of the treasury's being shut at all.

Again, when someone in the Senate asked him to render an account of the money he had received from Antiochus before the treaty for paying the army, he said that he had the ledger, but that he ought not to submit to an audit from anyone.

When the man kept pressing him and told him to produce it, Scipio ordered his brother to bring the document. When it had been brought, he held it out and tore it to pieces before everyone's eyes, telling the man who demanded the account to look for it among those scraps, and then asked the others how it was that they wanted an accounting of how the three thousand talents had been spent and through whose hands, but did not ask at all how the fifteen thousand talents they were receiving from Antiochus were entering Rome, through whose agency, or how they had become masters of Asia, Libya, and Iberia.

As a result, not only were all the others struck silent with amazement, but even the man who had demanded the account said no more.

Let this be said by us both for the sake of the glory of these departed men and to stir later generations toward noble actions. —

Chapter 15 Polybius Condemns Ravaging Crops and Trees

It is not right to destroy the crops of those opposed to you. For *Polybius says,* "For my part I never agree with those who carry their anger against their own people so far that they not only strip their enemies of the year's produce, but even destroy the trees and the built works, leaving no room for repentance.

Those who do such things seem to me gravely mistaken. For to the same degree that they think they are terrifying their enemies by ravaging the land and taking away not only present means of life but future hopes as well, to that same degree they make men savage and turn the anger of those who have once gone astray into something unchangeable." —

Chapter 16 Lycortas Defeats Messene

Lycortas, the general of the Achaeans, had broken the spirit of the Messenians by the war. [...] The Messenians had long been terrified of their leaders, but now at last some of them dared to speak out, trusting in the enemy reserve force, and said that envoys should be sent to negotiate a settlement.

Deinocrates and his associates, no longer able to face the people because they were hard-pressed [...] by the turn of events, gave way and withdrew to their own homes.

The majority, encouraged by the older men and especially by the envoys from Boeotia, who had already come earlier about a settlement—Epaenetus and Apollodorus—and who happened opportunely to be in Messene at that moment, quickly appointed envoys and sent them out, begging pardon for what had been done.

The Achaean general took his colleagues with him, heard the envoys out, and said that there was only one possible reconciliation between the Messenians and the League: they must immediately hand over to him those responsible for the revolt and for the murder of Philopoemen, submit all other matters to the judgment of the Achaeans, and admit a garrison at once into the citadel.

When these terms were reported to the crowd, those who had long been bitterly disposed against the men responsible for the war were eager to surrender and arrest them; and those who were persuaded that they would suffer nothing severe from the Achaeans readily agreed to entrust the rest of the matter to their decision.

In short, having no real choice in the present circumstances, they unanimously accepted the proposals.

The general therefore immediately took possession of the citadel and led the peltasts into it.

After that he took selected men from the camp, entered the city, gathered the populace together, and addressed them in language suitable to the crisis, promising that they would never regret the confidence they were placing in him.

The final decision on the whole issue he referred to the nation—for by what was almost a coincidence the Achaeans were again assembling at Megalopolis for the second synod— but as for those charged with responsibility, all who had taken part in the immediate killing of Philopoemen he ordered to remove themselves from life at once [...] —

Chapter 17 Arguments For and Against Admitting Sparta

The Messenians, by their own ignorance, had brought themselves to the very edge of ruin, but through the magnanimity of Lycortas and the Achaeans they were restored to their original position in the federal union.

At this same time Abia, Thuria, and Pharae separated themselves from Messene and, after each set up its own inscribed stele, joined the common federation independently.

When the Romans learned that affairs at Messene had turned out in the proper way for the Achaeans, they ignored their earlier reply and gave a different answer to the same envoys, making it clear that they had taken measures to prevent anyone from Italy from bringing either arms or grain into Messene.

From this it became obvious to everyone that they were very far from neglecting outside affairs unless absolutely necessary; quite the opposite, they were annoyed whenever everything was not referred to them and carried out according to their judgment.

When the envoys from Rome arrived in Sparta bringing this answer, the Achaean general, as soon as he had finished settling affairs at Messene, summoned the people to the city of the Sicyonians.

Once the Achaeans had assembled, he laid before them a proposal to admit Sparta into the federation, saying that the Romans had declined the arbitration previously entrusted to them concerning that city, for they had now answered that affairs at Sparta were no concern of theirs, while those who at present controlled Sparta wished to take part in the federation.

Therefore, he urged them to admit the city, for this would be advantageous in two ways. First, they would be receiving men who had preserved their loyalty to the League.

Second, they would not have as partners in the constitution those old exiles who had behaved ungratefully and impiously toward them; rather, by confirming the policy of those who had excluded such men from the city, they would both uphold the decision already taken and pay them the gratitude they deserved, with the favor of the gods.

With these and similar arguments Lycortas urged the Achaeans to receive Sparta.

But Diophanes and certain others tried to support the exiles, urging the Achaeans not to join in crushing men who had been banished, and not, because of a handful of people, to strengthen those who had impiously and unlawfully driven them from their fatherland.

Chapter 18 Sparta Included In the League

Such were the arguments made by both sides. After hearing them both, the Achaeans decided to admit the city; and after an inscribed stele had been drawn up, Sparta was politically united with the Achaeans, the men then in possession of the city agreeing to receive such of the old exiles as were not thought to have committed any outrageous act against the Achaean nation.

After ratifying these measures, the Achaeans sent envoys to Rome, headed by Bippus of Argos, to explain everything to the Senate.

The Spartans likewise appointed envoys led by Chaeron.

And the exiles sent Cletis and Diactorius to appear in the Senate in opposition to the envoys from the Achaeans.

Book XXIV

Callicrates of Leontion addressing the Roman Senate to urge Roman intervention in Greece (180 BC). Book XXIV, 9.

Chapter 1 The Spartan Exiles Refused

Olympiad 149, year 3. Affairs in Italy.

When envoys had arrived at Rome from the Spartans, from the Spartan exiles, and from the Achaeans, and at the same time also from Eumenes, from king Ariarathes, and from Pharnaces, the Senate dealt first with these latter embassies.

A short time earlier the envoys with Marcus, whom they had sent regarding the war between Eumenes and Pharnaces, had reported back and had made clear both Eumenes' moderation in every respect and Pharnaces' greed and general arrogance.

So after hearing the envoys now present, the Senate did not require many arguments, but answered that it would again send commissioners to investigate more carefully the matters in dispute between the kings.

After this the exiles from Sparta entered, together with the envoys from the city itself; and after listening to them at length, the Senate did not censure the men from the city for what had taken place.

To the exiles, however, it promised that it would write to the Achaeans about securing their return home.

A few days later the envoys headed by Bippus of Argos, who had been sent by the Achaean people, entered and explained the settlement of the Messenian question.

The Senate, showing displeasure at none of the arrangements, gave the envoys a gracious reception.

Chapter 2 Treaty Between the Achaeans and the Messenians

Affairs in Greece.

When the Spartan exiles arrived in the Peloponnese from Rome and brought letters from the Senate to the Achaeans asking them to make provision for the exiles' return and safety in their homeland, the Achaeans decided to postpone deliberation on the matter until their own envoys should come back.

After giving this reply to the exiles, they set up the inscribed treaty with the Messenians, granting them, besides the other generous terms, exemption from taxes for three years, so that the devastation of the territory might burden the Achaeans no less than the Messenians.

But when Bippus and his companions returned from Rome and explained that the letters about the exiles had been written not because the Senate was eager for the measure, but because the exiles had pressed the matter, the Achaeans resolved to stand by the existing arrangements.

Chapter 3 Troubles in Crete

In Crete the beginning of serious troubles was being set in motion—if indeed one should speak of a "beginning" of troubles in Crete.

For because civil wars there are unceasing, and because the savagery they show one another is extreme, beginning and end are the same thing in Crete; and what some people might think a paradoxical statement can there be seen happening constantly.

Chapter 4 Mount Haemus in Thrace

Quoted by Strabo, Geography.

Affairs in Macedonia.

Mount Haemus lies toward the Pontus, the greatest and highest of the mountains in that region, dividing Thrace more or less in the middle. Polybius says that from it both seas can be seen, but he is not right; for the distance to the Adriatic is great, and many things obstruct the view.

Chapter 5 Attalus Goes to Rome

Olympiad 149, year 4. Affairs in Italy.

After Pharnaces, Attalus, and the rest had made terms with one another, all withdrew with their own forces to their respective countries.

At this time Eumenes had recovered from his illness and was staying at Pergamum. When his brother arrived and explained what had been arranged, he approved what had been done and decided to send all his brothers to Rome, partly because he hoped to bring the war with Pharnaces to an end through their embassy, and partly because he was eager to introduce his brothers, both to their own private friends and hosts at Rome and to the Senate as a body.

Since Attalus and those with him were also eager for the journey, they set out.

When they arrived at Rome, everyone in private life welcomed the young men warmly, since they had become acquainted with them during the campaigns in Asia; and the Senate gave their presence an even more splendid reception.

It provided them with generous hospitality and the fullest support, and met them graciously in audience.

When Attalus and his companions entered the Senate, they first renewed at greater length the previous expressions of goodwill, and then, after accusing Pharnaces, asked the Senate to take some action by which he might receive the punishment he deserved.

After hearing them graciously, the Senate replied that it would send commissioners who would use every possible means to end the war.

That was the situation in Italy.

Chapter 6 Ptolemy Offers Ships to the Achaeans

Affairs in Greece.

About the same time king Ptolemy, wishing to involve himself with the Achaean League, sent an embassy promising to provide a complete squadron of ten fifty-oared ships.

The Achaeans gladly accepted the offer, because the gift seemed worthy of gratitude. [For the expense seems to fall not much short of ten talents].

Having resolved this, they appointed Lycortas, Polybius, and with them Aratus son of Aratus of Sicyon as envoys, to thank the king both for the arms and the money he had previously sent, to receive the ships, and to make arrangements for bringing them back.

They chose Lycortas because, when Ptolemy renewed the alliance, he was serving as general and had zealously cooperated with him at that time; Polybius, though younger than the legal age, because his father had acted as envoy to Ptolemy in renewing the alliance and had brought to the Achaeans the gift of the arms and the money; and similarly Aratus because of his inherited ties of friendship with the royal house.

This embassy, however, never set out, because Ptolemy died about that time.

Chapter 7 Chaeron the Spartan Demagogue

At the same time there was in Sparta a certain Chaeron, who had happened to serve the previous year as envoy to Rome, a man clever and effective in action, but young, obscure, and brought up in a popular style.

By stirring up the mob and venturing on measures no one else had dared to attempt, he quickly won a reputation with the masses.

First he seized the land which the tyrants had granted to the sisters, wives, mothers, and children left behind by the exiles, and distributed it among the poor at random and unevenly on his own authority.

After that, treating public property as though it were his own, he spent the revenues without regard for law, public decree, or magistrate.

This angered certain men, and they pressed to have auditors of the public accounts appointed according to the laws.

Chaeron saw what was happening, and, conscious that he had badly mishandled the city's affairs, he had Apollonides—the most distinguished of the auditors and the man best able to expose his greed—attacked as he was leaving a bathhouse in broad daylight; he sent men against him and had him stabbed to death.

When news of this reached the Achaeans and the people were outraged at what had happened, the general set out at once and came to Sparta. He brought Chaeron to trial for the murder of Apollonides, condemned him, and placed him in custody.

He also urged the remaining auditors to make a genuine investigation into the public funds, and to see that the relatives of the exiles recovered once more the properties of which Chaeron had deprived them a short time before.

Chapter 8 The Achaeans Debate the Roman Letters

At this time, when Hyperbatus the general brought before the assembly the question of what should be done about the letters from Rome concerning the return of the Spartan exiles, the party of Lycortas urged that they should stand by the existing arrangements, because the Romans, they said, were only doing what suited them by listening within reasonable limits to men who seemed to have been wronged in the matter of their property.

But whenever someone showed them that some of the requests were impossible, and others would bring great disgrace and damage upon their friends, they were not accustomed to persist or to force such demands through.

Therefore, even now, if anyone shows them that by obeying what is written the Achaeans would violate the oaths, the laws, and the inscribed agreements that hold our federal union together, they will retreat and agree that we are right to stand firm and to ask to be excused from what they have written. Such was what Lycortas and his party said.

But Hyperbatus and Callicrates urged obedience to the Roman letters, and said that neither law nor inscription nor anything else should be considered more binding than this.

As this dispute went on, the Achaeans decided to send envoys to the Senate to explain the points made by Lycortas.

They immediately appointed as envoys Callicrates of Leontium, Lydiadas of Megalopolis, and Aratus of Sicyon, and after giving them instructions in accordance with this policy, sent them off.

But when they arrived at Rome, Callicrates entered the Senate and was so far from presenting the case in accordance with his instructions that, from the very outset, he undertook not only to denounce his political opponents boldly, but even to lecture the Senate.

Chapter 9 Callicrates Lectures the Roman Senate

For he said that the Romans themselves were responsible for the Greeks' refusal to obey them, and for their disregard of both written orders and verbal instructions.

For in all democratic states at present there were two tendencies: one held that people ought to follow what the Romans wrote, and should regard neither law nor inscription nor anything else as more important than Rome's decision; the other appealed to the laws, the oaths, and the inscribed agreements, and urged the masses not to violate these lightly.

This latter position, he said, was by far the more Achaean in character and the more successful with the multitude.

As a result, disrepute and slander among the crowds attended those who chose the Roman side, while the opposite fell to those who resisted.

So if the Senate gave some clear sign, the politicians would quickly shift toward the Roman preference, and the masses too would follow them out of fear.

But if this side were neglected, everyone would incline to the other position, because it appeared more honorable and finer in the eyes of the people.

Thus even now certain men, though offering no other claim to justice but ambition, were receiving the highest honors in their own states simply because they seemed to oppose your written instructions, for the sake of keeping their own laws and decrees in force.

Therefore, if the Romans are indifferent to having the Greeks obey them and comply with what they write, he said they should continue the course they are now following.

But if they want their instructions to be carried out and none of their written orders treated with contempt, they must give this matter the attention it deserves.

Otherwise, they should clearly understand that the opposite of their intentions will happen—which, he said, had in fact already happened.

For quite recently, in the Messenian affair, although Quintus Marcius had taken many steps to ensure that the Achaeans made no decision about the Messenians without Roman approval, they disregarded him and voted for war; they not only devastated the whole country unjustly, but also drove some of the noblest citizens into exile, and others, after taking them in surrender, tortured in every way and put to death, merely because they appealed to Rome concerning the disputed matters.

And now again, although the Romans had for a long time been writing about the return of the Spartan exiles, the Achaeans were so far from obeying that they had even set up an inscribed stele and sworn agreements with those who held the city, pledging that the exiles should never be restored.

In view of all this, he urged them to take thought for the future.

Chapter 10 The Senate Rewards Callicrates

After Callicrates had spoken these and similar words, he withdrew.

Then the exiles came in, briefly explained their own case, added some appeals to common pity, and departed.

The Senate judged that Callicrates had said things advantageous to its own interests, and learned from him that it ought to strengthen those who supported its decrees and humble those who opposed them.

Thus, from that time onward, it first set itself to weakening in their own states the men who took the noblest course, and to gathering around itself those who ran to it, whether justly or unjustly. As time went on, the result for Rome was that it came to have plenty of flatterers but few genuine friends.

At that moment, regarding the return of the exiles, it wrote not only to the Achaeans urging them to lend support, but also to the Aetolians, Epirotes, Athenians, Boeotians, and Acarnanians, summoning them all, as it were, as joint witnesses in order to crush the Achaeans.

And as for Callicrates himself, passing over his fellow envoys in silence, it inserted into its reply a remark that each state ought to have men like Callicrates.

Armed with these replies, the man returned to Greece exultant, not knowing that he had become the originator of great evils for all the Greeks, and especially for the Achaeans.

For even at that time it was still possible for them to maintain something like equal frankness in their dealings with the Romans, because they had kept faith in the most critical times from the moment they chose the Roman side—I mean in the wars against Philip and Antiochus.

Thus, with the Achaean nation having grown and advanced in the best direction from the period covered by my history, this in turn became the beginning of its change for the worse: the audacity of Callicrates [...].

The Romans, being human beings and possessed of a noble spirit and good intentions, feel pity for those who have suffered misfortune and try to grant favors to all who seek refuge with them.

But whenever someone who has kept faith reminds them of what is just, they draw back and, so far as they can, correct themselves in most matters.

Callicrates, however, when he went to Rome at this time, was supposed to speak for the rights of the Achaeans; instead he acted in the opposite way, and by dragging in the Messenian affair—a matter

about which the Romans were not even making accusations—returned to Achaea magnifying the fear inspired by Rome.

And by his embassy he overawed and broke the spirit of the masses, since the common people had no idea what he had truly said in the Senate. First of all, he was elected general, and, to add to the other evils, he took bribes; and after taking office he restored the exiles from Sparta and from Messene.

Chapter 11 Philopoemen and Aristaenus Contrasted

Philopoemen and Aristaenus, both Achaeans, were unlike each other both in natural character and in political choice.

Philopoemen was by nature well fitted, in both body and spirit, for military action; the other for civil deliberation.

In political judgment they differed in this way. Once Roman supremacy had become fully entangled with Greek affairs, both in the period of the wars against Philip and that against Antiochus, Aristaenus conducted the policy of the state so as to do at once everything that suited the Romans, and in some matters even before they gave orders.

Still, he tried to appear to hold to the laws, and he cultivated that impression, giving way whenever any of them clearly conflicted with what the Romans wrote.

Philopoemen, on the other hand, agreed to and supported without excuse everything the Romans asked that was consistent with the laws and the alliance, but whenever they ordered anything beyond those limits, he could not bring himself to comply willingly. Instead he said one must first plead one's case, and then make the request again; and if even so one failed to persuade them, one should at last yield under protest and only then do what was required.

Chapter 12 Aristaenus Defends Obedience to Rome

Aristaenus used such arguments as these before the Achaeans in defense of his own policy. He said that it was impossible, while holding out both the spear and the herald's staff at once, to preserve friendship with Rome.

"But if we are able to look them in the face and have the power to do so [...] but if not even Philopoemen dares to say this [...] circumstances [...] one [...] to the Romans, why, by reaching for impossibilities, should we throw away what is possible?" For, he said, every policy has two aims: what is honorable and what is advantageous. Those for whom the attainment of honor is possible should cling to it if they govern rightly; but those for whom it is impossible must take refuge in advantage.

To miss both, he said, is the clearest mark of poor judgment. And this plainly happens to those who agree without excuse to everything ordered, yet do so unwillingly and with resentment.

“Therefore we must either show that we are capable of refusing obedience, or, if we do not dare even to say that, we must be ready to comply promptly with all commands.”

Chapter 13 Philopoemen Resists the Inevitable

Philopoemen said one should not judge him so ignorant that he was unable to measure either the difference between the Roman and Achaean constitutions or the superiority of Roman power.

But since it is the nature of every superiority always to treat those under it more harshly, he asked whether it was really advantageous to cooperate with the impulses of the stronger power and put no obstacle in its way, so that we might as quickly as possible experience its heaviest commands—or rather, to struggle against it and hold out, so far as we are able, to the extent that we are going to completely [...].

[...] even if they issue commands [...] and by reminding them of these considerations and checking their impulse we will at least restrain to some extent the bitterness of their power—especially since, as you yourself say, Aristaenus, the Romans up to the present care greatly for keeping oaths, treaties, and faith with allies.

But if we ourselves condemn our own rights from the outset and immediately, like men taken by the spear, present ourselves as ready for everything commanded, what difference will there be between the Achaean nation and the Sicilians or the Capuans, who have long been acknowledged slaves?

Therefore, he said, one must either concede this: that no justice has any force with the Romans; or, if one does not dare say that, one must make use of what is just and not abandon one’s own cause, especially when we possess the greatest and noblest advantages in dealing with Rome.

For he said that he knew clearly this time would one day come for the Greeks, when they would be forced to do everything commanded.

“But would one wish to see that time come as quickly as possible, or as slowly as possible? Surely,” he said, “as slowly as possible.”

“That,” he said, “is the difference between Aristaenus’ policy and my own. He is eager to see the inevitable arrive as soon as possible and to assist it as far as he can; but I resist it and try to push it back, so far as it is possible for me.”

From what has been said, it is clear that the policy of the one was honorable, and that of the other decorous, and that both were in fact safe.

Thus, when the greatest crises then confronted both Romans and Greeks in the wars against Philip and Antiochus, both men nevertheless preserved unimpaired the rights of the Achaeans in relation to Rome.

Yet a report circulated that Aristaenus was more favorably disposed toward the Romans than Philopoemen.

Chapter 14 Eumenes and Attalus March on Pharnaces

Affairs in Asia.

In Asia king Pharnaces, once again disregarding the appeal that had been made to Rome, sent Leocritus during the winter with ten thousand troops to ravage Galatia, while he himself, as spring was appearing, gathered his forces with the intention of invading Cappadocia.

When Eumenes learned this, he was deeply troubled because Pharnaces was overstepping every limit of good faith, yet he was compelled to act in much the same way.

And when he had already assembled his forces, Attalus and those with him sailed back from Rome.

Once they had come together and exchanged views, they immediately marched out with the army.

When they reached Galatia they no longer found Leocritus there. Cassignatus and Gaizatorix, who had taken Pharnaces' side the year before, sent messages to them asking for safety and promising to do whatever was ordered.

But Eumenes and his party rejected them because of their earlier disloyalty, and then advanced with their entire army against Pharnaces.

Starting from Calpitus, they reached the river Halys on the fifth day, and on the sixth day they marched on again to Parnassus.

There Ariarathes, king of the Cappadocians, joined them with his own forces, and together they entered the territory of the Mocissi.

Just as they had encamped, news came that Roman envoys had arrived to negotiate a settlement.

Chapter 15 Peace Talks with Pharnaces Fail

When king Eumenes heard this, he sent Attalus to receive them, while he himself doubled his forces and carefully put them in order, both to meet the actual demands of the campaign and because he wished to show the Romans that he was capable, by his own power, of defending himself against Pharnaces and of defeating him in war. When the envoys arrived and urged that the war be ended, Eumenes and Ariarathes said that they were ready for anything asked of them, but they requested the Romans, if possible, to bring them together in conference with Pharnaces, so that by hearing the arguments face to face they might see more fully his faithlessness and cruelty.

If that was not possible, they asked the Romans themselves to act as fair and impartial judges of the dispute.

The envoys undertook to do everything possible and honorable, but they demanded that the army be withdrawn from the country, for it was absurd that, while envoys were present and making proposals for peace, the operations of war should continue and the two sides should keep harming one another.

Eumenes and his party agreed, and immediately broke camp and marched off toward Galatia.

The Romans then met with Pharnaces and first demanded that he enter into discussions with Eumenes' party, since in that way the business would most likely be brought to a conclusion.

But when he resisted this point and finally refused outright, it was at once clear to the Romans that he was plainly condemning himself and had no confidence in his own case.

Nevertheless, since they were determined by every means to end the war, they persisted until he agreed to send plenipotentiaries by sea to Pergamum to conclude the peace on whatever terms the envoys should prescribe.

When the envoys had arrived and the Romans and Eumenes' party came together, the latter proved ready to accept everything for the sake of bringing the peace to completion.

But the representatives from Pharnaces disputed every point, would not stand by what had already been agreed, and kept introducing fresh demands and changing their minds. The Romans quickly saw that they were laboring in vain, for Pharnaces was not the sort of man to come to terms.

So when the conference accomplished nothing, the Romans departed from Pergamum, the envoys of Pharnaces were dismissed to return home, the war was left to continue by itself, and Eumenes' party again turned to preparations for it.

At that time the Rhodians urgently drew Eumenes to their side, and he set out with great eagerness to deal with the matters concerning the Lycians [...]

Book XXV

Lycian envoys departing from their coastal tombs to plead their cause before Rome. Book XXV, 4.

Chapter 1 Destruction of Celtiberian Cities

Quoted by Strabo, Geography.

Olympiad 150, year 1. Affairs in Spain.

When Polybius says that Tiberius Gracchus destroyed three hundred Celtiberian cities, Posidonius remarks mockingly that the historian meant to do Gracchus a favor by calling towers “cities,” the way they do in triumphal processions.

And perhaps the point is not unbelievable; for both generals and historians are easily drawn into this kind of falsehood, dressing up events to make them look finer.

Chapter 2 Pharnaces Makes Peace with Eumenes and Ariarathes

Affairs in Asia.

Because the attack upon him had been sudden and severe, Pharnaces was ready to accept whatever terms were proposed; so he sent envoys to Eumenes and Ariarathes.

When Eumenes and Ariarathes accepted these proposals and at once sent envoys of their own to Pharnaces, and when this exchange had taken place several times on both sides, the settlement was ratified on these terms:

There was to be peace forever between Eumenes, Prusias, and Ariarathes on the one side, and Pharnaces and Mithridates on the other.

Pharnaces was not to invade Galatia on any pretext whatever; and any earlier treaties between Pharnaces and the Galatians were to be void.

Likewise he was to withdraw from Paphlagonia, restoring the inhabitants whom he had previously carried off, together with their arms, missiles, and the rest of their equipment.

He was also to restore to Ariarathes the districts he had taken from him, together with the equipment already there, and the hostages.

He was also to give back Tium on the Pontus, which after some time Eumenes later granted to Prusias as a generous favor.

It was further written that Pharnaces should restore all prisoners without ransom, as well as all deserters.

In addition, from the money and treasure that he had carried off from Morzius and Ariarathes, he was to pay the aforesaid kings nine hundred talents, and to add three hundred talents for Eumenes toward the expenses of the war.

A further clause imposed on Mithridates, the satrap of Armenia, a payment of three hundred talents, because he had broken his treaty with Eumenes and made war on Ariarathes.

Included in the treaty, among the dynasts of Asia, were Artaxias, ruler of the greater part of Armenia, and Acusilochus; and among those in Europe, Gatalus the Sarmatian; and among the autonomous communities, the people of Heraclea, the Mesembrians, the people of the Chersonese, and along with them the Cyzicenes.

Finally, the treaty specified how many hostages Pharnaces must give and who they were to be; and when these also had arrived, the armies at once broke camp and withdrew.

Such was the outcome of the war waged by Eumenes and Ariarathes against Pharnaces.

Chapter 3 First Acts of Perseus as King

Olympiad 150, year 2. Affairs in Macedonia.

After renewing his friendship with the Romans, Perseus at once set about winning influence in Greece, inviting into Macedonia men who had fled because of debt, men driven into exile by convictions, and men who had withdrawn under charges affecting the royal interest.

He posted notices about this at Delos, Delphi, and the sanctuary of Athena Itonia, offering those who came down not only personal safety but also recovery of the property from which each had fled.

Within Macedonia itself he also cancelled debts owed to the crown and released those who had been confined in prisons on charges against the royal authority.

By doing this he raised the hopes of many, seeming to hold out fair expectations of himself to all the Greeks.

In the rest of his way of life too he displayed the dignity proper to kingship.

For in outward appearance he was impressive, and for every bodily demand that belongs to an active public life he was well fitted; even in expression and bearing he had a gravity and composure well suited to his age.

He had also escaped his father’s self-indulgence, both in women and in drinking. He himself drank moderately at dinner, and so did the friends in his company.

Such was the tone of the opening of Perseus' reign.—As for king Philip, when he had grown powerful and gained mastery over the Greeks, he proved more faithless and lawless than any man; but when fortune later turned against him, he became more moderate than any man.

And after he had suffered a complete reverse in his general position, he tried in every possible way to give his kingship a firmer practical foundation.

Chapter 4 The Senate Hears the Lycian Envoys

Olympiad 150, year 3. Affairs in Italy.

After the consuls Tiberius and Claudius had been sent against the Istrians and Agrians, the Senate, now that summer was already drawing to its close, dealt with the envoys who had come from the Lycians, men who had reached Rome only after the Lycians had already been defeated, though they had in fact been dispatched a considerable time earlier.

For when the people of Xanthus were just about to enter the war, they had sent Nicostratus and his colleagues as envoys both to Achaea and to Rome.

When these men then arrived at Rome, they stirred many of the Senate to pity by setting before their eyes both the harshness of the Rhodians and their own desperate situation.

At last they brought the Senate to the point of sending envoys to Rhodes to make clear that, when the records were consulted of what the ten commissioners had arranged in Asia while settling affairs with Antiochus, it was found that the Lycians had been assigned to the Rhodians not as a gift, but rather on the footing of friends and allies.

Yet even when the settlement had been made in these terms, the result did not please many people at all.

For the Romans seemed to be pitting the Rhodians and the Lycians against each other because they wanted the Rhodians' accumulated resources and treasuries to be drained away, having heard both of the bridal escort that the Rhodians had recently provided for Perseus and of their review of ships.

For a short time before this the Rhodians had conspicuously displayed, with great magnificence, the full strength of all the vessels they possessed.

A large supply of timber for shipbuilding had in fact been furnished to the Rhodians by Perseus, and he had also presented a gold headband to each of the sailors of the undecked ships who had recently escorted his bride Laodice.

Chapter 5 Lycians Revolt Again

Affairs of Rhodes.

When the envoys from Rome arrived at Rhodes and explained the Senate's decision, there was an uproar in Rhodes and great agitation among the politicians, because they were indignant that the Lycians were said not to have been given to them as a gift, but to stand to them only in an allied relation.

For just when they thought the Lycian question had been satisfactorily settled, they now saw the beginning of a fresh crisis taking shape.

As soon as the Romans arrived and made this declaration to the Rhodians, the Lycians immediately rose again in faction and were ready to endure anything for the sake of autonomy and freedom.

The Rhodians, however, after hearing the envoys and concluding that the Romans had been deceived by the Lycians, at once appointed Lycophron and his colleagues as ambassadors to instruct the Senate on the points just mentioned.

That was the state of the matter at the time, when the Lycians seemed on the point of rising again.

Chapter 6 The Dardanian Envoys Complain about Perseus

Olympiad 150, year 4. Affairs in Italy.

When the envoys from Rhodes arrived, the Senate heard their speech and postponed its reply.

But when the Dardanians came and described both the numbers of the Bastarnae and the great size of the men and their boldness in danger, and also made clear the collusion of Perseus and the Gauls, saying that they were more anxious about him than about the Bastarnae and therefore begging for Roman aid, and when Thessalians were also present, supporting the Dardanians' testimony and themselves urging the Romans to help, the Senate decided to send certain men who would be eyewitnesses of what was being reported.

So they immediately appointed Aulus Postumius and sent him out, together with some young men.

Book XXVI

King Antiochus IV Epiphanes wandering the streets of Antioch incognito in a candidate's toga. Book XXVI, 1.

Chapter 1 Antiochus Epiphanes

Antiochus, though called Epiphanes, was nicknamed Epimanes from his conduct. Polybius says of him that he would sometimes slip away from the court, eluding his attendants, and then be seen wandering about aimlessly in some quarter of the city with only one or two companions.

Most often he was found at the silversmiths' and goldsmiths' shops, chatting and showing his enthusiasm for craftsmanship with the metalworkers and other artisans.

At other times he would mix with ordinary townsmen and converse with anyone he happened to meet, and he would even drink with visiting foreigners of the humblest sort.

If he learned that some young men were feasting together, he would appear among them without any warning, bringing horns and musicians with him in reveling fashion, so that most people, startled by the oddity of it, would get up and run away.

He would often lay aside his royal dress, put on a toga-like robe, and walk about the marketplace canvassing for office, shaking hands with some men and even embracing others as he asked for their vote, sometimes as though he were seeking the aedileship and sometimes the tribunate.

And when he had won the office, he would sit down on the ivory curule chair in the Roman manner, hear the business cases conducted in the marketplace, and decide them with great seriousness and eagerness. By this he left sensible people perplexed: some thought him a simple, guileless man, while others thought him mad. His conduct in giving presents was similar. To some he gave gazelle knucklebones, to others dates, and to others gold.

He would even encounter certain men by chance whom he had never seen before and give them unexpected gifts.

In the sacrifices offered by cities and in honors shown to the gods he surpassed all previous kings.

One may judge this from the Olympieion at Athens and from the statues around the altar at Delos.

He even bathed in the public baths when they were crowded with ordinary townsmen, with jars of the costliest perfumes brought in for him.

Once, when someone said, "How fortunate you kings are, to use such things and smell so sweet," he said nothing to the man; but on the next day, when that fellow was bathing, Antiochus came in and had a very large jar of the most expensive perfume, the kind called stacte, poured over his head, with

the result that all the bathers jumped up and rolled themselves in the perfume, then kept slipping and falling because it was so sticky, providing laughter for everyone, including the king himself.

Chapter 1a Why Polybius Calls Antiochus Epimanes

This passage repeats chapter 1 as preserved by a second quoting author.

Olympiad 151. Affairs of Antiochus.

Polybius, in the twenty-sixth book of the Histories, calls him Epimanes rather than Epiphanes because of his conduct. For he not only came down to associate with common townsmen, but even drank with visiting foreigners and with the very meanest people.

And if, he says, he became aware that some young men were feasting together anywhere, he would appear with horn-music and a band, so that most people, startled by the strangeness of it, would leap up and run away. He often even cast off his royal dress, put on a toga-like cloak, and walked about the marketplace.

Book XXVII

The Macedonian cestros: a heavy catapult-dart launched from a sling during the Third Macedonian War (168 BC). Book XXVII, 11.

Chapter 1 Affairs In Boeotia: The War with Perseus

Olympiad 152, year 1. The war with Perseus.

At this time envoys arrived: from the Thespians, Lases and Callea with their party, and from Neon, Ismenias.

Lases and his colleagues were placing their own city in Roman hands, while Ismenias was offering all the cities in Boeotia together, as a single body, to the discretion of the commissioners.

This proposal was exactly contrary to the policy of Marcius and his associates; what best suited them was to divide the Boeotians city by city.

So they gladly received and warmly courted Lases and his party, as well as the men from Chaeronea, Lebadea, and all the others who had come from individual cities, but they made a public example of Ismenias, brushing him off and treating him with contempt.

Indeed some of the exiles joined in attacking him and nearly stoned him to death, if he had not fled for refuge beneath the Roman doorway.

At the same time disturbances and civil conflict were taking place in Thebes.

One side said the city must be entrusted to the Romans, while the men of Coronea and Haliartus, who had gathered in Thebes, still claimed control of affairs and insisted that they must remain in alliance with Perseus.

For a while the two factions were evenly matched. But when Olympichus of Coronea was the first to change sides and declared that they must stand by the Romans, there came a complete swing and reversal in the temper of the crowd, and first they compelled Dicetas to go as envoy to Marcius and his colleagues to make a defense of the alliance with Perseus.

After that they expelled Neon and Hippias, rushing to their houses and ordering them to defend themselves for the policy they had managed; for these were the men who had arranged the alliance.

Once these men had withdrawn, the Thebans immediately assembled, voted honors and gifts for the Romans, and then ordered the magistrates to put the alliance into effect.

Finally they appointed envoys to hand over the city to the Romans and to bring back their own exiles.

Chapter 2 The Boeotian League Is Dissolved

While these things were being carried through at Thebes, the exiles at Chalcis put forward Pompides and brought charges against Ismenias, Neon, and Dicetas.

Since the mistaken policy of the men already mentioned was plain enough, and since the Romans were strengthening the hand of the exiles, Hippias and his party were brought into such extreme unpopularity that they even ran the risk of their lives at that very moment from the rush of the crowd, until the Romans provided them with a little security by restraining the mob's attack.

When the Thebans arrived carrying the decrees and honors already mentioned, each matter was answered with rapid effect, since the cities lay very close to one another.

After receiving the Thebans, Marcius and his colleagues praised the city and advised them to restore the exiles to their homes.

They immediately instructed all the cities to send embassies to Rome, each one separately placing itself under Roman protection.

And since everything was turning out according to their intention—for their object was to dissolve the Boeotian nation and to destroy the goodwill of the masses toward the Macedonian royal house— they sent for Servius from Argos and, leaving him at Chalcis, advanced into the Peloponnese; while Neon, after a few days, withdrew to Macedonia.

Ismenias and Dicetas were then led off to prison, and after some time they took their own lives.

Thus the Boeotian nation, which had preserved its common federal union for a long time and had surprisingly survived many varied crises, was then dissolved and broken up into separate cities, because it had rashly and irrationally chosen the side offered by Perseus, panicking in a childish and thoughtless way.

Aulus and Marcius, when they reached the city of the Argives, conferred with the magistrates of the Achaeans and asked Archon the general to send a thousand soldiers to Chalcis to guard the city until the Roman crossing.

Archon readily complied. So after accomplishing these measures among the Greeks during the winter, and after meeting with Publius, they sailed back to Rome.

Chapter 3 Rhodes Prepares to Assist Rome

At the same period Tiberius, Postumius, and Junius were making a tour of the islands and the cities in Asia [...] and most of all in Rhodes, though in those days the Rhodians had no need of it.

For Agesilochus, who was then serving as prytanis, a man of high standing who later also went on embassy to Rome, had even earlier, as soon as it became clear that the Romans were about to make

war on Perseus, urged the people in other respects as well to share the same hopes as Rome, and had advised the Rhodians to put forty ships in readiness, so that, if some need should arise from circumstances, they would not still be making preparations at the moment they were called upon, but, already ready, could carry out the decision at once.

By laying these points before the Romans at that time and showing them the preparations before their eyes, he sent the envoys away with the city in high favor. Tiberius and his colleagues, after welcoming the Rhodians' goodwill, carried the report back to Rome.

Chapter 4 Perseus Sends a Statement to the Greeks

After the conference with the Romans, [...] of the Greeks, Perseus set down in a letter the whole of his legal case and the arguments spoken on either side, partly because he supposed he would appear to have the stronger claim in justice, and partly because he wished to test the disposition of each state.

So to the other states he sent the letters by ordinary couriers, but to Rhodes he sent envoys along with them, Antenor and Philip.

When these men arrived, they delivered the written statement to the magistrates; and a few days later, appearing before the council, they urged the Rhodians for the present to remain quiet and watch the course of events.

But if the Romans, contrary to the treaties, should attempt to lay hands on Perseus and the Macedonians, then they were to try to bring about a settlement.

For this, they said, was advantageous to everyone and especially fitting for the Rhodians.

The more they reached after equal speech and frankness, and continually stood forward as champions not only of their own freedom but also of that of the rest of the Greeks, the more they ought to foresee and guard against the opposite policy to the best of their ability.

When the envoys had spoken these and similar words, what they said pleased everyone.

But because the Rhodians were already committed to goodwill toward Rome, and because the sounder judgment prevailed among them, though they received the envoys kindly in all other respects, they insisted in their reply that Perseus must not call on them for anything of such a kind as would make them appear to act against the will of the Romans.

Antenor and his colleagues did not receive the answer [...]; but, satisfied with the rest of the Rhodians' courtesy, they sailed back to Macedonia.

Chapter 5 Perseus Sends Antigonus to Boeotia

Perseus learned that some of the cities in Boeotia were still holding fast to their goodwill toward him, and he sent Antigonus, the son of Alexander, as envoy.

When he arrived in Boeotia, he passed over the other cities because he found no opening for closer dealings there, but he entered Coronea, Thisbae, and also Haliartus, and urged the people to hold fast to their goodwill toward the Macedonians.

They gladly accepted what he said and voted to send envoys to Macedonia, so he sailed away and, on meeting the king, gave him a full report on the situation in Boeotia.

A little later the envoys also arrived and asked him to send help to the cities that had chosen the Macedonian side, for the Thebans, they said, were pressing them hard and harassing them because they would not agree with them or choose the side of Rome.

When Perseus heard this, he said that because of the truce he could not send military help to anyone at all, but he urged them generally to defend themselves against the Thebans as best they could, while not making war on the Romans, but remaining quiet.

Chapter 6 Perseus's Envoys Expelled from Rome

When the Romans had heard the envoys who had come from Asia speak about Rhodes and the other cities, they summoned the envoys sent by Perseus.

Solon and Hippias and their party tried to say something about the whole situation and to appease the Senate, but for the most part they defended themselves against the charge of the plot against Eumenes.

When they had finished their defense, the Senate, having long since resolved on war, ordered them and all the other Macedonians who happened to be staying there to leave Rome at once, and Italy within thirty days.

After this they called in the consuls and urged them to seize the moment and not delay.

Chapter 7 Rhodes Debates Sending Ships to Rome

While Gaius was still lying at anchor off Cephallenia, he sent the Rhodians a letter about dispatching ships, entrusting the letter to a certain athletic trainer named Socrates.

When the letter reached Rhodes, Stratocles was serving as prytanis in the second half-year of his term.

When the matter was brought forward for debate, Agathagetes, Rhodophon, Astymedes, and many others thought the ships should be sent and that they should join the war at once from the beginning, without making any pretext.

But Deinon, Polyaratus, and their party, though already displeased by the friendly attitude that had been shown toward the Romans, now put forward King Eumenes as a pretext and began to corrupt the

inclination of the masses.

For the Rhodians had long felt suspicion and hostility toward Eumenes, first dating from the war against Pharnaces, when Eumenes was blockading the mouth of the Hellespont to keep ships from sailing into the Black Sea, and the Rhodians intervened and stopped him, and then, in more recent times, the quarrel had been stirred up again by the Lycian disputes over certain forts and a tract of land that lay on the border of the Rhodian Peraea and was continually being ravaged by troops under Eumenes.

Because of all this they were ready enough to listen to anything said against the king.

So Deinon's party seized on this opportunity and tried to discredit the letter, saying that it had come not from the Romans but from Eumenes, who wanted by every possible means to drag them into the war and saddle the people with needless expense and suffering.

As proof of what they said, they pointed to the fact that the man who had brought the letter was just such a person as this, whereas the Romans were not accustomed to act in that way, but sent communications of this kind with great seriousness and official protection.

They said this even though they knew perfectly well that the letter had in fact been written by Lucretius, because they wanted to teach the masses not to do anything readily for the Romans, but in every matter to be difficult and to provide occasions for suspicion and resentment.

For their purpose was to estrange the people from their goodwill toward Rome and, so far as they could, entangle them in friendship with Perseus.

These men were devoted to that course because Polyaratus, being more boastful and vain, had burdened his estate with debt, while Deinon, being greedy and reckless, had from the beginning been drawn to the profits that came from powerful lords and kings.

At this point Stratocles the prytanis rose and, after speaking at length against Perseus and much in favor of the Romans, urged the majority to ratify the decree for dispatching the ships.

They immediately made ready six quadriremes, sent five of them to Chalcis with Timagoras appointed to command them, and the remaining one to Tenedos, on which [...] Timagoras sailed as commander.

When he reached Tenedos, he came upon Diophanes, who had been sent by Perseus to Antiochus; he did not get possession of Diophanes himself, but he did capture his crew.

Lucretius received all the allies who had come by sea with kindness and then released them from this service, saying that the situation did not require naval assistance.

Chapter 8 Perseus Summons a Council

After the Macedonian victory, when a council had been gathered around Perseus, some of his friends pointed out that the king ought to send an embassy to the Roman commander, and even now declare himself willing to pay the Romans the tribute that his father, when defeated, had previously promised, and to give up the same places.

For if the Romans accepted the settlement, they said, the war would end honorably for the king after his success in the field, and in general the Romans would in future be more cautious, now that they had had experience of Macedonian valor, not to impose anything unjust or oppressive on the Macedonians.

But if they refused to accept out of angry pride over what had happened, then heaven would justly be offended with them, while he, because of his moderation, would have both gods and men fighting on his side.

This view was approved by most of his friends, and Perseus agreed, so envoys were sent at once: Pantauchus son of Balacrus and Midon of Beroea.

When they arrived before Licinius, the commander immediately called a council. After the envoys had explained the message they had been instructed to deliver, Pantauchus and his colleague were asked to withdraw, and the Romans deliberated on the situation before them.

They unanimously decided to give the harshest answer possible.

For among the Romans this is in every way an established ancestral custom: in times of setback they show themselves most headstrong and severe, but in times of success most moderate.

Everyone would agree that this is a noble trait; but whether it is always practicable in certain circumstances, one might reasonably question.

At any rate, on that occasion they gave this answer: Perseus must place himself and all that concerned him in their hands, and in general give the Senate authority to decide, as it thought best, about Macedonian affairs.

When Pantauchus and his colleague heard this, they returned and reported it to Perseus and his friends.

Some of them were shocked by such arrogance, grew angry, and advised Perseus to send no more embassies or messages about anything whatever.

Perseus, however, was not that sort of man. Instead he kept adding to the amount of money offered and sent to Licinius again and again.

But he made no progress, and most of his friends reproached him, saying that though he was the victor he was acting like the defeated party, as if everything had gone wrong for him.

So in the end, abandoning hope in further embassies, he was forced to move his camp back again to Sicyrium.

Chapter 9 Moral Effect of Perseus's Successes

When news of the cavalry engagement and the Macedonian victory spread through Greece, the feelings of the masses for Perseus flared up like fire, though most of them had previously kept those feelings concealed.

Their state of mind, as it seems to me, was something like this: what happened was much the same as in athletic contests.

For there too, whenever a humble and far inferior challenger is matched against a famous athlete thought to be unbeatable, the crowd immediately gives its support to the weaker man, urges him to be bold, and throws itself into his efforts.

And if he even brushes the other's face and leaves some visible mark from the blow, the whole crowd is at once thrown into excitement.

Sometimes they even begin jeering at the other man, not because they hate him or think little of him, but because, in a surprising way, their sympathies are stirred and they naturally give their favor to the weaker side.

But if someone checks them at the right moment, they quickly change and immediately recognize their own mistake. Cleitomachus is said to have done just this.

He seemed irresistible as an athlete, and his fame had spread throughout the inhabited world. So King Ptolemy, eager to put an end to that reputation, is said to have trained the boxer Aristonicus with great care and sent him out, since he seemed to have exceptional natural gifts for that purpose.

When Aristonicus arrived in Greece and was matched against Cleitomachus at Olympia, the crowd, it seems, leaned toward Aristonicus from the very beginning and kept encouraging him, delighted that someone had at least dared to stand up to Cleitomachus.

And when, as the contest went on, he appeared to be holding his own and even landed a telling blow, there was loud applause, and the mass of spectators broke out together, shouting encouragement to Aristonicus.

At that point, they say, Cleitomachus stepped back and paused a little to catch his breath; then he turned to the crowd and asked them what they meant by cheering Aristonicus and supporting him as much as they could, whether they were not aware that he himself was fighting fairly, or whether they failed to understand that Cleitomachus was now competing for the honor of the Greeks, while Aristonicus was competing for that of King Ptolemy.

Did they really want an Egyptian to carry off the Olympic crown by defeating Greeks, or a Theban and Boeotian to be proclaimed victor in boxing over his rivals?

After Cleitomachus said this, they say that the crowd's feeling changed so completely that Aristonicus was defeated more by the sudden reversal of the spectators than by Cleitomachus himself.

Chapter 10 The Unthinking Multitude

What happened with Perseus and the crowds was very similar to this.

For if someone had stopped them and frankly asked whether they wished so great a supremacy to fall into the hands of one man and wanted to experience monarchical power that was answerable to no one in any respect, I think they would quickly have come to their senses, taken back what they were saying, and swung round to the opposite view.

And if someone had briefly reminded them of the hardships the Greeks had suffered from the Macedonian royal house, and of the advantages they had gained from Roman power, I think they too would immediately have repented and changed their minds.

But at that moment, in their first unthinking impulse, the approval of the masses for the news that was being announced was obvious enough: they were delighted, out of sheer surprise, if someone had appeared at all capable of standing up to the Romans.

I have gone into this matter to this extent so that no one may rashly reproach the Greeks for ingratitude in the attitude they showed at that time, through ignorance of the impulses that naturally belong to human beings.

Chapter 11 Invention of the Cestros

The cestros was a new invention in the war with Perseus.

The missile was made like this: it was two palms in length, with the socket and the projecting point equal in size.

Into this was fitted a wooden shaft, a span long and a finger's breadth in diameter.

Into the middle of this shaft three very small wooden fins were fixed.

Because the sling had two thongs of unequal length, the missile was loosely set between them in the middle.

Then, while the sling was being whirled and the thongs were taut, it stayed in place; but when one of the two thongs was released at the moment of discharge, it slipped free, and flew from the sling like a lead bullet, striking with violent force and badly mangling anyone it happened to hit.

Chapter 12 Character of Cotys

Cotys was a man impressive in appearance and outstanding in military matters; and in character he was anything but a Thracian.

For he was temperate, and he showed a gentleness and depth of spirit worthy of a freeborn man.

Chapter 13 Ptolemy's Frugal Rule in Cyprus

Ptolemy, the commander in Cyprus, was not Egyptian in his ways at all, but a sensible and capable man.

For when he took over the island, while the king was still an infant, he applied himself diligently to raising money, but he gave absolutely nothing to anyone, though the royal administrators often asked him for funds and bitterly criticized him for never releasing anything.

But when the king came of age, he gathered together a considerable sum of money and sent it off.

As a result, King Ptolemy himself and the courtiers approved of his former frugality and of his refusal to part with any money.

Chapter 14 Dispute at Rhodes

Olympiad 152, year 2. The war with Perseus.

At the time when Perseus broke off operations in the war against the Romans, Antenor arrived from Perseus to negotiate the ransom of the prisoners who had sailed with Diophanes, and a serious division arose among the Rhodian statesmen over what ought to be done.

The party of Philophron and Theaetetus was completely opposed to entering into such an entanglement, while the party of Deinon and Polyaratus favored it.

In the end they came to an arrangement with Perseus for the redemption of the prisoners.

Chapter 15 Charops of Epirus

Cephalus came from Epirus. He had previously had ties with the Macedonian royal house, but was then compelled by circumstances to choose the side of Perseus. The cause of this was as follows.

There was an Epirote named Charops, a man of fine character and a friend of the Romans, who, when Philip had occupied the passes into Epirus, was responsible for driving Philip out of Epirus and for enabling Titus to gain control of both Epirus and the Macedonians.

This man had a son, Machatas, whose own son was Charops.

When the father died while this boy was still under age, the elder Charops sent him to Rome with the protection appropriate to his station, so that he might learn the Roman language and letters.

After some time, this young man returned home, having become acquainted with many people there.

The elder Charops then died. The young man, unstable by nature and full of every kind of wickedness, became puffed up and attached himself to the prominent men.

At first no one paid him any attention, but the men who held the leading place both in age and in reputation, the party around Antinous, managed public affairs according to their own judgment. But when the war with Perseus broke out, this young man at once began to slander the men just mentioned before the Romans, using as his pretext their earlier connection with the Macedonian royal house, while in present circumstances he watched everything closely and interpreted every word and action of theirs in the worst possible way, suppressing some facts and adding others, and so made his accusations against them convincing.

Cephalus, however, was in every other respect a prudent and steady man, and at this crisis too he held to the soundest judgment.

At the outset he prayed to the gods that the war might not break out and that matters might not be decided by force.

But once the war was actually under way, he wished to fulfill Rome's claims under the alliance fairly, while beyond that he did not want to run to them in a servile way or render any service beyond what was proper.

When Charops actively employed his slanders against him and treated everything done contrary to Roman wishes as deliberate malice, the men already mentioned at first ignored him, since they were conscious of no plans hostile to Rome.

But when they saw the Aetolians Hippolochus, Nicander, and Lochagus being carried off to Rome without cause after the cavalry action, and when they saw that the accusations brought against them by the party of Lyciscus had been believed, men who in Aetolia represented the same political tendency that Charops did in Epirus, then, foreseeing what was coming, they began to take counsel for their own safety.

They therefore resolved to try every possible means to prevent themselves from being carried off to Rome without a hearing because of Charops' slanders.

Thus Cephalus and his friends were forced, contrary to their own preference, to choose the side of Perseus.

Chapter 16 Plot to Kidnap a Roman Consul

The party of Theodotus and Philostratus committed an act that was openly impious and a clear breach of faith.

For when they learned that the Roman consul Aulus Hostilius was coming, on his way to the camp in Thessaly, and thought that, if they delivered Aulus to Perseus, they would both give the strongest proof of loyalty and do the Romans the greatest harm at that moment, they kept writing to Perseus and urging him to hurry.

The king wanted to advance at once and join them, but since the Molossians had occupied the bridge over the river Aous, he was prevented from making the attempt and was first forced to fight them.

It happened that when Aulus arrived among the Phanoteis he lodged with Nestor of Cropia, and thus gave his enemies just the opportunity they needed against him; and if some turn of fortune had not decided matters for the better, I do not think he would have escaped.

But as it was, Nestor somehow, with almost divine foresight, perceived what was coming and forced him to move on from there to Gitana during the night.

So, abandoning the overland route through Epirus, he put to sea and sailed to Anticyra, and from there made his way into Thessaly.

Chapter 17 Pharnaces, King of Pontus

Pharnaces proved to be the most lawless of all the kings before him.

Chapter 18 Attalus Wants his Brother's Honours Restored

While Attalus was wintering at Elateia and clearly knew that his brother Eumenes was deeply distressed and offended because the most distinguished honours granted to him had been annulled in the Peloponnese by a common decree, though Eumenes concealed these feelings from everyone, Attalus decided to send messages to certain men in Achaea, eager by his own efforts to have his brother's honours restored, not only the honorific monuments but the inscribed honours as well.

He did this because he was convinced that he could give his brother no greater favour, and above all that by this action he would show the Greeks the brotherly affection and nobility of his own character.

Chapter 19 Antiochus Protests Ptolemy's War Plans

When Antiochus saw that the authorities in Alexandria were now openly making preparations for the war over Coele-Syria, he sent envoys headed by Meleager to Rome, instructing them to address the Senate and formally protest that Ptolemy was the one making the first attack on him, in defiance of every principle of justice [...].

Chapter 20 The Need of Promptness and Persistence

Perhaps in every human undertaking one should measure each action by the right moment, for timing has the greatest power; but this is especially true in war.

For in such matters the balance can swing very sharply in either direction, and to miss the critical moment is one of the gravest errors.

Many people seem to desire what is noble, but few dare to attempt it, and of those who do attempt it, very few carry through to the end what duty requires in each case.

Book XXVIII

Polybius as Hipparch addressing the Achaean council in defense of moderate neutrality (169 BC). Book XXVIII, 7.

Chapter 1 Antiochus and Ptolemy Appeal to Rome

Olympiad 152, year 3. Affairs in Italy.

Since the war over Coele-Syria had already begun between Kings Antiochus and Ptolemy, envoys came to Rome: from Antiochus, Meleager, Sosiphanes, and Heracleides; from Ptolemy, Timotheus and Damon.

At that time Antiochus held the advantage in the affairs of Coele-Syria and Phoenicia.

For ever since Antiochus, the father of the king now reigning, defeated Ptolemy's generals in the battle near Panium, all the regions just mentioned had been subject to the kings in Syria.

So Antiochus, thinking that possession won in war was the strongest and noblest title, pursued the matter as though he were defending property that was his own.

Ptolemy, on the other hand, believed that the former Antiochus had unjustly taken advantage of his father's orphaned condition and stripped them of the cities of Coele-Syria; so he could not bring himself to yield those places to him. That was why Meleager and his party came, with instructions to call the Senate to witness that Ptolemy, against every rule of justice, had been the first to attack him.

Timotheus and his colleagues came both to renew friendly relations and to speak about ending the war with Perseus, but above all to observe the interviews of Meleager's party.

They did not dare speak about ending the war, however, because Marcus Aemilius advised them against it. So, after renewing the friendship and receiving answers in line with what they had requested, they returned to Alexandria.

To Meleager and his colleagues the Senate replied that it would entrust Quintus Marcius to write to Ptolemy on these matters in whatever way he judged advantageous and consistent with his own good faith. This, then, was how the matter was handled for the present.

Chapter 2 Embassy from Rhodes

About this same time, and now with summer already drawing to a close, envoys also arrived from Rhodes: Agesilochus, Nicagoras, and Nicander.

They came to renew the friendship, to obtain permission to ship out grain, and at the same time to answer the slanders being spoken against their city.

For faction at Rhodes seemed to be quite open: Agathagetus, Philophron, Rhodophon, and Theaetetus rested all their hopes on the Romans, while Deinon and Polyaratus looked to Perseus and the Macedonians.

As a result, when objections were repeatedly raised in the course of their public business and deliberations were pulled in opposite directions, those who wanted to invent stories against the city found plenty of opportunities.

Nevertheless, on that occasion the Senate took no notice of any of this, though it knew clearly what had happened among them; and it granted them permission to export one hundred thousand medimni of grain from Sicily.

That was the business the Senate handled privately with the Rhodian envoys.

After that it gave a similar answer to all the other envoys who had arrived from Greece and were pursuing the same policy.

Such was the state of affairs in Italy.

Chapter 3 Pressure Put On Achaea and Aetolia

At this time Aulus, serving as proconsul and wintering in Thessaly with the army, sent envoys to the regions of Greece, Gaius Popilius and Gnaeus Octavius.

They first came to Thebes, where they praised the Thebans and urged them to preserve their goodwill toward the Romans.

Then, as they went on through the cities of the Peloponnese, they tried to show the people the Senate's mildness and humanity by producing the decrees that had been issued a little earlier.

At the same time, through their remarks, they let it be understood that they knew the men in each city who were hanging back beyond what was proper, and likewise those who were pressing forward.

And it was plain to everyone that they were displeased with the laggards no less than with those who openly opposed them.

By this they drove many people into uncertainty and bewilderment about what words or actions would best meet the demands of the present moment.

Gaius and his colleague, when the Achaean assembly had been convened, were said to have intended to accuse Lycortas, Archon, and Polybius, and to show that these men were out of sympathy with Roman policy and, though quiet for the moment, were not naturally so disposed, but were watching events and waiting for their opportunity.

They did not dare to do this, however, because they had no reasonable pretext against the men just named.

So when the council was assembled for them at Aegium, they addressed the Achaeans in a speech at once cordial and exhortatory, and then sailed away to Aetolia.

Chapter 4 Discussion of the Aetolian Congress

And again, when an assembly had been convened for them at Thermon, they came before the people and delivered speeches full of exhortation and professions of goodwill.

But the real object for which they had the assembly in hand, they said, was that the Aetolians must give them hostages.

After they had stepped down, Proandrus rose and wanted to set forth certain services he had rendered that were useful to the Romans, and to accuse those who were slandering him. Thereupon Gaius rose again, and although he knew perfectly well that Proandrus was no friend of Rome, he nevertheless praised him and confirmed everything he had said.

After him Lyciscus came forward and, though he brought no accusation against anyone by name, cast suspicion on many.

For he said that the Romans had acted rightly in dealing with the ringleaders by taking them off to Rome—meaning Eupolemus and Nicander— but that their associates and supporters were still left in Aetolia, and that all of them ought to meet with the same correction, unless they surrendered their children to the Romans as hostages.

His hints were aimed especially at Archedamus and Pantaleon.

When he yielded the floor, Pantaleon rose and briefly denounced Lyciscus, saying that he shamelessly and basely flattered those who held the upper hand.

Then he turned against Thoas, thinking that he was the man who gave the accusations against them their greatest credibility, since no quarrel between the two of them was thought to exist.

Reminding him partly of what had happened in the time of Antiochus, and partly reproaching him for ingratitude because, after he had been surrendered to the Romans, he had unexpectedly been saved through the embassy of Pantaleon and Nicander, he quickly worked the crowd up so far that they were ready not only to shout Thoas down whenever he tried to speak, but even to stone him with one accord.

After this had happened, Gaius briefly reproached the Aetolians for stoning Thoas, and at once departed with his fellow-envoy for Acarnania, saying no more about the hostages. Meanwhile affairs in Aetolia were full of mutual suspicion and complete disorder.

Chapter 5 Acarnanians Refuse a Roman Garrison

When an assembly of the Acarnanians was convened at Thyrrheion, Aeschrion, Glaucus, and Chremas, who were on the Roman side, urged Gaius and his colleagues to place a garrison in Acarnania.

For, they said, there were men among them who were steering affairs toward Perseus and the Macedonians.

But Diogenes gave the opposite advice. He said that no garrison ought to be introduced into any city, since that was a measure reserved for peoples who had become enemies and had been defeated by the Romans.

The Acarnanians, having done nothing wrong, did not deserve to admit a garrison in any way at all.

As for the party of Chremas and Glaucus, he said that they wanted to build up a personal domination for themselves, and so they were slandering their political opponents and trying to bring in a garrison that would strengthen their own grasping ambitions.

After this had been said, Gaius and his colleagues saw that the crowd disliked the idea of garrisons and, wishing to keep in step with the Senate's policy, agreed with Diogenes' view, commended it, and departed for Larisa to rejoin the proconsul.

Chapter 6 Council of the Achaeans

The leading Greeks decided that the situation created by this embassy required close attention.

So they brought together those who agreed with them in their general political outlook: Arcesilaus and Ariston of Megalopolis, Stratius of Tritaea, Xenon of Patrae, and Apollonidas of Sicyon; and they took counsel about the crisis before them.

Lycortas remained fixed in the policy he had held from the first, judging that they should give no help either to Perseus or to the Romans, but likewise should oppose neither side.

To cooperate, he thought, would be disadvantageous for all the Greeks, since he foresaw how great the power of the victors would become.

But to oppose the Romans was dangerous, because in earlier times they had already come into conflict over public affairs with many Romans, including some of the most eminent.

Apollonidas and Stratius, on the other hand, thought that they should not deliberately set themselves against the Romans; but they said that men who tumbled headlong in their eagerness, who used public business to store up private favor with the Romans, and who acted in this way against the laws and against the common interest, ought to be checked and boldly resisted.

Archon said that they must follow the times, give their enemies no opening for slander, and not allow themselves to fall into the same condition as Nicander and his associates, who, before they had learned by experience what Roman power was, had brought themselves into the gravest troubles.

Polybius, Arcesilaus, Ariston, and Xenon shared this opinion.

Accordingly, they resolved that Archon should at once go forward for the office of strategus, and Polybius for the command of the cavalry.

Chapter 7 A Speech of Polybius

After these events had just taken place, and after Archon's party had already reached the conclusion that they must cooperate with the Romans and their friends, it so happened, by a fortunate turn, that Attalus made his request while they were ready to receive it.

So they readily gave him their assent and promised to support what he asked.

When Attalus had sent envoys, and these men appeared at the first assembly and addressed the Achaeans about restoring the honors paid to the king, urging them to do this as a favor to Attalus, the crowd showed no clear opinion, and many rose to contradict the proposal for a variety of reasons.

Some, because they had originally been responsible for removing the honors, wanted to confirm the wisdom of their own policy; others, because of private grievances, thought they had found an opportunity to strike at the king; and some, from jealousy of those supporting the measure, were eager to prevent Attalus from carrying his proposal.

Archon rose to support the envoys, for the matter called for the opinion of the strategus. But after saying only a few words he withdrew, because he was wary of seeming to give this advice for profit, since he had spent a considerable sum of money in securing his office.

As great uncertainty prevailed, Polybius rose and made a number of arguments; but above all he won over the majority by pointing to the original decree of the Achaeans about these honors, in which it had been written that the improper and illegal honors should be removed—not, by Zeus, all of them.

He said that Sosigenes and Diopeithes, who were serving as judges at that time and were privately at odds with Eumenes, had seized on this opportunity to overturn all the honors granted to the king.

In doing so, they had acted contrary to the decree of the Achaeans, contrary to the authority given them, and, most of all, contrary to justice and what was fitting.

For the Achaeans had not resolved to abolish the honors of Eumenes because they had suffered some wrong at his hands; rather, because he had asked for rewards greater than his benefactions deserved, they had voted to remove only the excess.

Therefore, just as those judges, by putting their private hostility ahead of what was honorable for the Achaeans, had overthrown all the honors, so now the Achaeans, considering their own duty and dignity the highest authority, ought to correct the judges' error and, in general, the unreasonable treatment shown to Eumenes, especially since the favor they were about to grant would rest not only on the king himself, but even more on his brother Attalus.

When the people approved what he said, a decree was drafted ordering the magistrates to restore all the honors of King Eumenes, except any that contained something unbecoming to the Achaean League or contrary to law.

So in this way, and at this moment, Attalus corrected the unjust treatment that had been shown in the Peloponnese regarding the honors belonging to his brother Eumenes.

Chapter 8 Perseus Sends Pleuratus to Gentius

Perseus sent envoys to King Gentius: Pleuratus the Illyrian, who was living with him as an exile, and Adaeus of Beroea.

He instructed them to explain what he had accomplished in the war, both against the Romans and against the Dardanians, and also what he had done for the present against the Epirotes and the Illyrians, and to invite Gentius into friendship and alliance with himself and the Macedonians.

So they made their journey beyond Mount Scardus through the region called Desert Illyria, which the Macedonians not long before had laid waste in order to make Dardanian incursions into Illyria and Macedonia more difficult.

Even so, Adaeus and his party came through those districts with great hardship to Scodra, and when they learned that Gentius was staying at Lissus they sent messengers on to him.

He quickly summoned them, and when they met him they spoke on the matters included in their instructions.

Gentius did not seem averse to friendship with Perseus, but as his excuse for not immediately agreeing to what was asked, he pleaded lack of funds and said that he could not undertake a war against Rome without money.

With this answer Adaeus and his companions set out on their return.

Perseus meanwhile arrived at Stuberra, sold the booty, and rested his forces while waiting for Pleuratus and the others.

When they arrived and he heard Gentius' reply, he at once sent Adaeus back again, together with Glaucias, one of his bodyguards, and as a third envoy the Illyrian, because he knew the Illyrian language, giving them the same instructions as before, as though Gentius had not clearly explained what he needed and what, once provided, would allow him to comply with the request.

After they had set out, Perseus himself broke camp and marched with his army toward Uscana.

Chapter 9 Unwise Parsimony of Perseus

At this time the envoys who had been sent to Gentius returned, having accomplished nothing more than the earlier embassies and bringing no new result, because Gentius remained of the same mind, ready enough to join Perseus in the same enterprise, but saying that he needed money.

Perseus ignored this and again sent Hippias and his party to confirm the agreement, leaving out the central point and saying that [...] he would make Gentius well disposed.

So one is at a loss whether such conduct should be called mere irrationality or a kind of heaven-sent delusion. For my part, I think it is rather such a delusion, when men set their hearts on bold enterprises and risk their lives, yet neglect the very thing that holds their plans together, though they see it and have the power to do it.

For if Perseus at that time had been willing to spend money, both publicly on states and privately on kings and political leaders—not lavishly, as his resources allowed, but only in moderation—it would have turned out that all the Greeks and all the kings, or at least most of them, would have been found wanting. I do not think any sensible person will dispute this.

But as things stood, by good fortune he did not take that path, by which, if he had succeeded, he would have gained an overbearing mastery of everything, or, if he had failed, would have made many others share the same fate as himself.

Instead he took the opposite course, by which only a very few Greeks acted with utter want of judgment at the crisis of the action.

Chapter 10 Perseus Blames Hippias for the Failure

Perseus, after suffering a general failure when the Romans entered Macedonia, laid the blame on Hippias.

But it seems to me easy enough to criticize other people and to detect the mistakes of one's neighbors; the hardest thing of all is to do what one can oneself and to understand one's own position. That, too, is what happened in the case of Perseus.

Chapter 11 Heracleum Captured by the Testudo

Heracleum was taken in a rather unusual way. On one side of the city the wall was low for a short stretch, and the Romans selected three detachments for the assault.

The first locked their shields together above their heads, so that by the close-set mass of the arms they looked like a sloping tiled roof. After this came two other detachments in succession [...] This "tiled-roof" formation was a tactical arrangement, which the Romans even practiced as part of their mock exercises.

Chapter 12 Achaeans Resolve to Fight Beside Rome

Because Perseus intended to come into Thessaly with an army and the whole issue was, in all likelihood, about to be decided, Archon and his colleagues thought it best to answer the suspicions and slanders against them once again by their actions themselves.

So they introduced before the Achaeans a decree that they should make a general levy and march into Thessaly, taking their full part in the struggle alongside the Romans.

When this decree had been ratified, the Achaeans decided that Archon should take charge of assembling the army and making preparations for the expedition, and that envoys should be sent to the consul in Thessaly to explain the Achaean decision and ask when and where they should join their army to his.

They immediately appointed Polybius and others as envoys, and gave Polybius special instructions: if the general approved the arrival of the army, he was to send his fellow envoys off at once to report this, so that they might not miss the right moment, while he himself was to see to it that the whole force found markets in the cities through which it marched and that the soldiers lacked none of their necessities.

With these instructions the men just mentioned set out.

They also appointed Telocritus and his colleagues as envoys to Attalus, carrying the decree concerning the restoration of the honors of Eumenes.

At the same time word reached the Achaeans concerning King Ptolemy that the customary rites performed for kings when they come of age, the Anacleteria, had now taken place in his case.

Judging that it was proper for them to mark the occasion, they voted to send envoys to renew the goodwill already existing between the League and the kingdom, and they at once appointed Alcithus and Pasiadas.

Chapter 13 Marcius Declines Assistance from the Achaeans

Polybius and his colleagues found that the Romans had moved on from Thessaly and were encamped in Perrhaebia, between Azorus and Doliche.

So, because of the critical circumstances, they postponed their audience, but shared in the dangers involved in the advance into Macedonia.

But when the army had marched down into the region around Heracleum, it seemed that the time had come for an interview, since the general appeared to have accomplished the greatest part of what lay before him.

Taking this opportunity, they presented the decree to Marcius and made clear the purpose of the Achaeans: they had resolved, as a whole people, to share with him in the same struggles and dangers. Besides this, they pointed out that every request made of the Achaeans by the Romans during the present war, whether written or delivered by message, had been accepted without objection.

Marcius warmly approved the zeal of the Achaeans, but released them from the hardship and expense, since the situation no longer required assistance from allied forces. So the other envoys returned to Achaea, but Polybius remained there and took part in the business at hand, until Marcius, on hearing that Appius Cento was asking the Achaeans for five thousand soldiers to serve in Epirus, sent the aforesaid Polybius off, urging him to see that the troops were not granted and that the Achaeans did not incur so great an expense to no purpose; for Appius, he said, had no sound reason for asking for the soldiers.

Whether he did this out of concern for the Achaeans or because he wanted Appius to achieve nothing is hard to say.

At any rate, when Polybius withdrew to the Peloponnese, letters from Epirus had already arrived, and not long afterward the Achaeans had assembled at Sicyon, so he found himself in a very great difficulty.

When the deliberation was opened on the soldiers Cento was requesting, Polybius decided that he could not possibly disclose the private instructions Marcius had given him; yet to oppose the aid openly, when no clear reason appeared for doing so, was altogether dangerous.

Since the situation was awkward and full of complications, he used, for the immediate crisis, the Senate's decree ordering that no one should comply with written demands from generals unless they acted in accordance with a decree of the Senate.

And no such authority was attached to the letters.

Thus he carried the point, and the question was referred to the consul, and through this means the nation was relieved of an expense amounting to more than a hundred and twenty talents.

Yet he gave those who wished to slander him before Appius an opening, because he had cut short Appius's attempt to obtain the reinforcement.

Chapter 14 Treachery of the Cydonians

At this time the Cydonians committed a deed universally acknowledged to be dreadful and a flagrant violation of sworn faith.

For although many acts of that sort had taken place in Crete, what happened then seemed to surpass the ordinary measure even of such crimes.

They were bound to the Apolloniates not only by friendship, but by political union, and in general by partnership in all the rights that human beings regard as sacred; and concerning these obligations there stood a sworn treaty in the name of Zeus of Ida.

Yet in breach of that sworn agreement they seized the city of the Apolloniates, slaughtered the men, plundered their property, and, after dividing among themselves the women, children, city, and territory, kept possession of it.

Chapter 15 The Cydonians Ask Help from Eumenes

In Crete, the Cydonians were afraid of the Gortynians, because in the previous year they had narrowly escaped losing their city when Nothocrates and his party attempted to seize it. So they sent envoys to Eumenes, asking for help under the terms of their alliance.

The king selected Leon and sent him off in haste with three hundred soldiers.

When they arrived, the Cydonians handed over the keys of the gates to Leon and entrusted the city as a whole to him.

Chapter 16 Rhodes Sends Embassies to Rome and Marcius

At Rhodes the strife between rival parties kept growing more and more intense.

For when the Senate's decree reached them, explaining that they should no longer pay attention to the commands of military leaders, but to the Senate's own decrees, and when the majority approved the Senate's foresight, Philophron and Theaetetus and their associates seized on this opening and pressed the matter forward, saying that envoys ought to be sent to the Senate, to Quintus Marcius the consul, and to Gaius, the commander of the fleet.

By that time it was already known to everyone which Roman magistrates were going to arrive in Greece.

So, though opposition was voiced, the proposal carried, and at the beginning of summer Agesilochus son of Hegesias, Nicagoras and Nicander were sent to Rome; while to the consul and the admiral they sent Agepolis, Ariston, and Pasicrates, with instructions to renew their friendly relations with the Romans and to answer the accusations that some people were making against their city, while Agesilochus and his colleagues were at the same time to speak about the export of grain.

What these men said to the Senate, what answers the Senate gave them, and how they returned after receiving every mark of goodwill, I have already recounted in the section on Italian affairs.

But on this point it is useful to remind the reader repeatedly, as I also try to do, because we are often compelled to report the audiences and negotiations of embassies before describing the circumstances of their appointment and dispatch.

For since in each year, while writing the events that properly belong to it, I try to bring together in one place a summary of the actions of each people, it is clear that this must necessarily happen in the course of the narrative.

Chapter 17 Marcius Hints at Rhodian Mediation

Agepolis and his colleagues came to Quintus and found him encamped in Macedonia near Heracleum, where they delivered the instructions they had been given.

After hearing them out, he said that he himself paid no attention to these slanders, and he urged them as well not to listen to anyone who dared to speak against Rome. He added many other expressions of goodwill besides.

He also wrote the same sentiments in a letter to the people of Rhodes.

Agepolis was greatly encouraged by the reception as a whole; and Quintus, taking him aside privately, said that he was amazed the Rhodians were not trying to bring the present war to an end, especially since that course suited their interests so well.

Whether he did this because he suspected Antiochus, fearing that if he gained possession of Alexandria he might become a dangerous additional enemy to the Romans while the war against Perseus was dragging on, for by this time the war over Coele-Syria had already become entangled, or whether, seeing that the issue with Perseus would soon be decided now that the Roman armies had entered Macedonia, and holding high hopes about the outcome, he wanted to prod the Rhodians into presenting themselves as mediators and, once they had done so, to give the Romans plausible grounds for deciding to deal with them however they saw fit, it is not easy to say with certainty. But I think the latter explanation is more likely, judging from what happened to the Rhodians shortly afterward.

In any case, Agepolis and his colleagues then went on from there to Gaius, and after receiving from him even more exceptional marks of goodwill than from Marcius, they quickly returned to Rhodes.

When the embassy reported back, and both generals seemed to have rivaled one another in friendliness, both in their conversation and in their formal replies, all the Rhodians were lifted up in spirit and full of confidence, though not all in the same way.

Those of sound judgment were delighted by the goodwill of the Romans, but the restless and unhealthy elements reasoned among themselves that such excessive kindness was a sign that the Romans were afraid of the crisis and that events were not turning out as they had expected.

And when Agepolis happened to let slip to some of his friends that he had received private instructions from Marcius to mention before the council the question of ending the war, then Deinon and his circle became completely convinced that the Romans were in grave difficulties.

So they sent envoys to Alexandria as well, to put an end to the war then being fought between Antiochus and Ptolemy.

Chapter 18 Antiochus IV. Epiphanes

King Antiochus was energetic in action, bold in his designs, and worthy of the royal office, except in his operations around Pelusium.

Chapter 19 Envoys Sent to Antiochus

After Antiochus took control of affairs in Egypt, Comanus and Cineas, having met in council with the king, decided to convene an advisory assembly made up of the most distinguished leaders to deliberate about the crisis at hand.

The first decision of the council was to send to Antiochus, to negotiate a settlement, the envoys from Greece who happened to be staying there.

At that time there were two embassies from the Achaean League: one to renew friendly relations, represented by Alcithus of Aegium, son of Xenophon, and Pasiadas; and another concerning the festival of the Antigoneia.

There was also an embassy from the Athenians concerning a gift, headed by Demaratus, and two sacred delegations: one for the Panathenaea, led by Callias the pancratiast, and the other concerning the Mysteries, in which Cleostratus conducted the business and delivered the speeches.

There were also present Eudemus and Hicesius from Miletus, and Apollonides and Apollonius from Clazomenae.

King Ptolemy also sent Tlepolemus and Ptolemy the rhetorician as envoys.

These men accordingly sailed up the river to meet him.

Chapter 20 Antiochus Epiphanes In Egypt

At the time when Antiochus occupied Egypt, those of the envoys from Greece who had been sent to arrange a settlement came to meet him. He received the men graciously and made their first reception notably splendid.

On the following day he granted them an audience and told them to speak on the matters for which they had been instructed.

The Achaean envoys spoke first, then Demaratus on behalf of the Athenians, and after him Eudemus of Miletus.

Since they were all speaking at the same moment of the same issue, the substance of their individual speeches was naturally much alike.

All of them laid the blame for what had happened on Eulaeus, and by appealing to Ptolemy's kinship with Antiochus and to Ptolemy's youth, they begged Antiochus to put aside his anger.

Antiochus agreed with all this and even strengthened their case further, but then began to speak in defense of his original rights, by which he tried to establish that the regions of Coele-Syria properly belonged to the kings of Syria, supporting his position by referring to the dominion of Antigonus, the first ruler who held the kingdom in Syria, and citing the concessions granted to Seleucus by the kings of Macedonia after Antigonus's death.

Next, building on these points, he appealed to the final acquisition made by his father Antiochus in war, and, above all, he denied the agreement which the men in Alexandria said had been made between the recently deceased Ptolemy and Antiochus's father: namely, that Coele-Syria was to be given to him as a dowry when he married Cleopatra, the mother of the present king.

After speaking on this case, and convincing not only himself but also those who had come to meet him that his claims were just, he then sailed to Naucratis.

There too he treated the people kindly, gave a gold coin to each of the Greeks living there, and then advanced against Alexandria.

To the envoys he promised that he would give his answer when Aristides and Theris returned to him.

For, he said, he had sent them to Ptolemy, and he wanted the envoys from Greece all to be fully informed and to serve as witnesses.

Chapter 21 Eulaeus Convinces Ptolemy to Give Up the Kingdom

Eulaeus the eunuch persuaded Ptolemy to gather up the money, surrender the kingdom to his enemies, and withdraw to Samothrace.

Who, if he paused to consider this, would not admit that bad companionships do the greatest harm to people?

For when a man, far removed from danger and at so great a distance from his enemies, with such great resources at hand, in control of such strong positions and such multitudes of subjects, did not even make one move toward what duty required, but immediately and without a struggle gave up a kingdom so famous and so fortunate—who would not say that this was the sign of a spirit made soft and wholly corrupted? If this had really been Ptolemy's natural disposition, then we should have blamed nature and laid the responsibility on nothing external.

But since his later actions cleared nature of the charge, showing that Ptolemy was in fact steadfast enough and brave in danger, it is plain that one may reasonably trace the cause of the cowardice he

showed at that time, and of his impulse to flee to Samothrace, to the eunuch and to the companionship in which he had been raised.

Chapter 22 Antiochus Leaves Alexandria

After leaving off the siege of Alexandria, Antiochus sent envoys to Rome.

These were Meleager, Sosiphanes, and Heracleides.

He set aside a hundred and fifty talents: fifty as a ceremonial gift to the Romans, and the rest to be distributed as presents to certain of the Greek cities.

Chapter 23 Envoys from Rhodes to Antiochus

During those same days envoys sailed from Rhodes to Alexandria to negotiate a settlement, the delegation led by Praxon; and not long afterward they also arrived at Antiochus's camp.

When the audience took place, they spoke at length, putting forward both the goodwill of their own city toward both kingdoms, the close connection of the kings with one another, and the advantage that peace would bring to each side.

But while the envoy was still speaking, the king cut him short and said there was no need for many words.

The kingdom, he said, belonged to the elder Ptolemy; with him he had long ago made terms and stood on friendly terms. If those in the city now wished to bring him back, Antiochus would not prevent it.

And he did indeed act accordingly.

Book XXIX

Gaius Popilius Laenas drawing a circle around King Antiochus IV Epiphanes at Eleusis (168 BC). Book XXIX, 27.

Chapter 1 Speech of L. Aemilius Paulus

Olympiad 152, year 4. Affairs in Italy.

For he said that they had only one occupation, both at dinner parties and in their conversations while walking about: seated in Rome, they managed the war in Macedonia, now criticizing what the generals were doing, now going through what they had left undone.

From this, he said, no benefit ever came to public affairs, but much harm had often resulted in many cases; and at times the commanders themselves were seriously damaged by these ill-timed displays of clever talk.

For slander always has something sharp and stirring about it, and when the mass of people has been prejudiced by constant chatter, the generals become easy for their enemies to despise.

Chapter 2 Gaius Popilius Laenas Sent to Alexandria

Because the Senate learned that Antiochus had become master of Egypt and had come close to taking Alexandria as well, and because it judged that the growth of this king's power touched its own interests, it appointed as envoys Gaius Popilius and his colleagues, to put an end to the war and, more generally, to inspect the state of affairs.

Such, then, was the situation in Italy.

Chapter 3 Gentius Forms an Alliance with Perseus

When Hippias and his companions, whom Perseus had sent as envoys to Gentius about the alliance, arrived before winter, and explained that the king was ready to undertake war against the Romans if he were given three hundred talents and the proper guarantees for the whole agreement, Perseus, when he heard this and judged Gentius' cooperation necessary, chose Pantauchus, one of his chief friends, and sent him off with instructions first to settle the matter of the money and to exchange sworn pledges for the alliance, then to take whatever hostages from Gentius Pantauchus thought fit and send them on, and to receive from Perseus whatever hostages Gentius should specify in the written terms, and besides this to arrange the transport of the three hundred talents.

Pantauchus at once set out and, arriving at Meteon in the land of the Labeatae, met Gentius there and quickly brought the young king round to sharing Perseus' hopes.

When the oaths for the alliance had been sworn and put into writing, Gentius immediately sent the hostages whom Pantauchus had specified, and with them Olympion to receive from Perseus the oaths and the hostages, while others were to take charge of the money.

Along with this, Pantauchus persuaded Gentius also to send envoys of his own, who, together with those being sent by Perseus, would go to Rhodes to negotiate a common alliance.

For if that were accomplished, and the Rhodians too entered the war, he declared that the Romans would be altogether easy to defeat.

Gentius, persuaded by these appeals, appointed Parmenion and Morcus and sent them out with instructions that, once they had received the oaths and hostages from Perseus and agreement had been reached about the money, they were to go on embassy to Rhodes.

Chapter 4 Gentius Joins Perseus

So all these men proceeded to Macedonia. But Pantauchus stayed at Gentius' side and kept reminding and pressing the young king not to delay his preparations, but, while ready, to seize positions, cities, and allies in advance; above all he urged him to prepare for a struggle at sea.

For since the Romans were completely unprepared in this sphere, both on the coasts of Epirus and in Illyria, everything proposed would be accomplished without a fight by Gentius himself and the forces he sent out.

So Gentius, persuaded by these arguments, busied himself with preparations both by land and by sea.

Perseus, meanwhile, when the envoys and hostages from Gentius arrived in Macedonia, set out from the camp by the river Elpeius with all his cavalry and went to meet them at Dion, and when he met them he first gave the oaths for the alliance in the presence of all the cavalry. For he greatly wished the Macedonians to know clearly of Gentius' cooperation, hoping that with this additional advantage they would be more confident.

Next he received the hostages and handed over his own to Olympion and his companions. The most distinguished among them were Limnaeus son of Polemocrates and Balacrus son of Pantauchus.

After this he sent those who had come for the money on to Pella to receive it there, while he dispatched the envoys bound for Rhodes to Thessalonica, to Metrodorus, instructing them to hold themselves ready for the voyage. He also persuaded the Rhodians to join in the war.

After arranging these matters, he sent Herophon as envoy to Eumenes, a man whom he had employed on such missions before, and Telemnastus the Cretan to Antiochus, telling him not to overlook the opportunity and not to suppose that Roman arrogance and harshness concerned Perseus alone, but to understand clearly that unless he too now took a hand, preferably by ending the war, but if not by helping Perseus, he would soon experience the same fortune himself.

Chapter 5 Difficulty of Explaining the Intrigues of Perseus and Eumenes

In dealing with this matter I was at a loss what I ought to do. For to write in detail and with exact precision about such negotiations as the kings carried on secretly with one another seemed open to criticism and altogether unsafe, while on the other hand to pass over completely what appeared to have been the most decisive element in this war, and the thing by which many of the later difficulties found their causes made clear, seemed to me a sign of sheer idleness and total lack of courage.

And so I was led to write briefly what seemed likely to be true, and the probabilities and indications by which I came to this judgment, since I was present at the time and was more struck than most people by each of the events that took place.

Chapter 6 Reasons to Suspect Intrigue between Eumenes and Perseus

I have already stated that Cydas the Cretan, while serving in Eumenes' army and being highly honored by him, first met with Cheimarus, one of the Cretans serving with Perseus, near Amphipolis, and then, when he came close to the wall at Demetrias, [...] spoke first with Menecrates and then with Antimachus [...].

And the fact that Herophon [...] twice went as an envoy from Perseus to Eumenes, and that on that account most of the Romans came to hold a not unreasonable suspicion about King Eumenes, is clear from what happened in the case of Attalus: for they allowed him to come to Rome from Brundisium and to conduct whatever business he wished, and in the end they gave him a friendly reply and sent him away, although he had done them nothing noteworthy, either before or during the war with Perseus; whereas Eumenes, who had provided them with the greatest services and cooperated with them most of all in the wars against Antiochus and Perseus, they not only prevented from going to Rome, but also ordered him to leave Italy within a fixed number of days, though it was midwinter.

From this it is plain that some sort of intrigue had taken place between Perseus and Eumenes, and that because of it the Romans had become so alienated from Eumenes.

What this intrigue was, and how far it went, is what we must now examine.

Chapter 7 Eumenes Intrigues With Perseus

It is easy to see that Eumenes would not have wished Perseus to prevail in the war and become master of everything.

Quite apart from the inherited enmity and ill will they had toward each other, the similarity of their positions was enough in itself to create distrust, jealousy, and, in general, the deepest hostility between

them.

What remained was for them to deceive and outscheme each other through secret dealings; and that is what both of them did.

For when Eumenes saw Perseus in difficulty, hemmed in on every side and willing to accept any terms at all in order to end the war, and when he saw him sending embassies year after year to the Roman generals about this business, and when he saw the Romans themselves dissatisfied with the whole course of events—partly because the war had made no progress until Paulus took command, and partly because affairs in Aetolia were in an unsettled state— he thought it quite possible that the Romans might consent to some settlement and bring the war to an end.

And he believed that he himself was especially well suited to act as mediator and bring this about.

With these ideas in mind, he began the year before to test Perseus through Cydas the Cretan, asking how much he would be willing to pay for such a chance.

Chapter 8 Struggle between Eumenes and Perseus

This, I think, was the beginning of their connection.

And when one compares the two men, one the most unscrupulous and the other the most money-loving, their contest naturally became ridiculous.

For Eumenes kept holding out every hope and every kind of bait, convinced that he would catch Perseus with promises; while Perseus rushed eagerly toward what was held out to him, yet could never bring himself to swallow it far enough to part with any money of his own.

The bargain they haggled over was this: Eumenes asked for five hundred talents as the price of standing idle in the fourth year and not cooperating with the Romans, either on land or at sea; and for ending the war altogether he demanded fifteen hundred, promising at once to give hostages and guarantees.

Perseus accepted the proposal about hostages, naming how many were to be sent, when they were to be sent, and how they were to be kept safe at Cnosus.

But as for the money, he said it would be shameful both for the giver and even more for the receiver to appear to remain neutral for pay; however, he said he would send the fifteen hundred talents by Polemocrates and his companions to Samothrace, where they could be deposited.

Since he himself was master of Samothrace, while Eumenes, like a bad doctor, preferred a retainer to payment after the treatment, he at last gave up the attempt when he found that his own cleverness was no match for Perseus' meanness.

So they parted on even terms, like good wrestlers leaving the contest of greed a draw.

Some of these details became known immediately, others later reached Perseus' close friends; and from them we were enabled to learn that avarice is, so to speak, the fastening-pin of every vice.

Chapter 9 The Avarice of Perseus

I will add one further point of my own: avarice not only does harm, it also makes men foolish.

For who would not remark the ignorance of both kings? How on earth did Eumenes imagine that, in spite of the deep hostility between them, he would be trusted and would receive such a large sum of money, when he could give Perseus no sufficient guarantee that it would be returned if he failed to carry out his promises?

And how could he suppose that, after taking so large a sum, he would escape the notice of the Romans?

Even if he had managed to hide it at the time, he would certainly not have escaped discovery later.

At the very least, he would necessarily have had to exchange his quarrel with Rome for the money he received; and because of that he was about to lose both the money itself and his kingdom, and very likely his life as well, once he appeared as an enemy of the Romans.

For even as things stood—when he had done nothing, but had merely entertained the scheme—he was brought into the gravest danger; what, then, ought one suppose would have happened to him if the plan had been carried through to completion?

And again, who would not marvel at Perseus for thinking anything more profitable or more urgent than to give the money and let Eumenes swallow the bait?

For if Eumenes had carried out even part of his promises and ended the war, the payment would have been well spent.

But if that hope had failed, Perseus would at least have thrown him into open hostility with Rome; for Perseus himself had complete control over making the whole transaction public.

And how valuable that would have been to Perseus, whether he succeeded in the war or failed, is easy to see: he would have regarded Eumenes as the guilty cause of all his misfortunes, and there was no more effective way he could have avenged himself on him than by making him an enemy of Rome.

So what was the cause of such obvious folly? Avarice. What else could one say?

One man, in order to get what did not belong to him, overlooked everything else and was ready to do anything; while the other, in order not to give anything away, was willing to endure anything and to ignore everything else.

Accordingly, Perseus, in his dealings with the Gauls and with Gentius, [...]

Chapter 10 Rhodes Decides to Seek Peace

When the vote was put before the Rhodians, the proposal to send envoys to negotiate a settlement won the day.

This was how the council settled the Rhodian opposition, [as is set down in the section on public speeches].

In that division, the men who sided with Perseus proved stronger than those who were trying to save their country and its laws.

The prytaneis immediately appointed envoys to bring the war to an end: Agepolis, Diocles, and Cleombrotus were sent to Rome; Damon, Nicostratus, Agesilochus, and Telephus to the general and to Perseus.

But they did not stop there. They went on in the same course and added to it, making their offence beyond excuse: for they at once sent envoys to Crete, to renew their former friendly relations with all the Cretans and to urge them to look at the times and the danger, to stand with the people of Rhodes, and to choose the same enemies and friends as they did; and they planned to speak in the same way in private to the individual cities.

Chapter 11 Turbulent Assembly at Rhodes

When Parmenion and Morcus, the envoys from Gentius, and with them Metrodorus, arrived at Rhodes, and the council had been summoned, the assembly was in a complete uproar. The men around Deinus and Polyaratus were now openly daring to speak on Perseus' behalf, while the party around Theaedetus was stunned by what was happening.

For the arrival of the galleys, the number of cavalry that had been lost, and [...] Gentius' defection crushed them.

So the outcome of the assembly followed naturally from what has just been said: the Rhodians voted to give both kings a friendly answer, to tell them that they had decided to put an end to the war, and to urge each of them not to make difficulties over peace terms.

They also received Gentius' envoys at the common hearth with great friendliness.

Chapter 12 On Proportion in History

[...] Again, other writers on the Syrian war. The reason for this is what I have already explained at some length.

For when men take a simple and straightforward subject and yet want not the facts but the bulk of their books to make them seem like historians, and want that sort of display to create the impression

of importance, it becomes necessary for them to make small things big, and to dress up matters that were briefly stated, and in some cases to turn incidental happenings into full-scale actions and affairs —staging contests and announcing battle lines in which sometimes ten infantrymen fell, sometimes only a little more, and cavalry even fewer than that.

As for sieges, geography, and similar topics, no one could adequately describe how far they work these up, given their lack of real material.

But the opposite is true for those who write universal history: and so one should not blame us as if we were dragging out events when we sometimes pass over things that others have given great attention and embellishment, and sometimes mention them only briefly; rather, one should trust that we give each subject the treatment it deserves.

For when those writers describe, somewhere in the course of their whole work, the siege of Phanoteia and Coroneia and [...], they are forced to set out every contrivance, every bold move, and every detail of the siege, and beyond that [...] to dwell on the capture of Tarentum, Corinth, Sardis, Gaza, Bactra, and, above all, Carthage, adding details of their own; yet they are not at all satisfied if we give a plain and truthful account of such matters.

The same judgment should apply to our treatment of battles and speeches, and likewise to the other parts of history: in all these matters we would fairly deserve much forgiveness, and the same is true of what I am about to narrate, for instance if [...] I should seem to use the same material, the same handling of events, or the same expressions; and also if I should anywhere make slips in the names of mountains or rivers or in the particular features of places. The size of the undertaking itself is excuse enough in all these matters, unless I am caught deliberately making false statements for gain; for that I ask no pardon, as I have repeatedly and expressly said in this work.

Chapter 13 Character of Gentius

In the twenty-ninth book, the same writer says that Gentius, king of the Illyrians, committed many shameful acts in his life because of his heavy drinking, being drunk night and day alike: and after killing his brother Plator, who was about to marry the daughter of Monunius, he himself married the girl and treated his subjects with savage cruelty.

Chapter 14 Scipio Nasica and Fabius Maximus Volunteer to Outflank the Macedonians

The first man to volunteer to lead the outflanking movement was Nasica, also called Scipio, the son-in-law of Scipio Africanus; later he became a man of great influence in the Senate.

The second was Fabius Maximus, the oldest of Aemilius' sons, still only a youth, who stood up eagerly.

Aemilius was pleased and gave them not as many men as Polybius says, but as many as Nasica himself says he received, in a letter he wrote to one of the kings, about these events.

The Romans were holding their own stoutly against the force of the parma shields and the Ligurian shields.

Chapter 15 A Cretan Deserter Brings Intelligence to Perseus

Quoted by Plutarch, Aemilius Paullus.

Meanwhile Perseus, seeing that Aemilius was staying still and not reckoning with what was happening, when a Cretan deserter slipped away from the road and came to him with news of the Roman outflanking move, was thrown into confusion. He did not move his camp, but handed over ten thousand mercenary foreigners and two thousand Macedonians to Milo and sent them off, urging them to hurry and seize the mountain passes.

Polybius says that the Romans fell on them while they were still asleep, but Nasica says there was a sharp fight and real danger on the heights.

Chapter 16 Battle of Pydna

Polybius says that when the moon was eclipsed, the rumor prevailed among the multitude, in the time of Perseus the Macedonian, that it signified the eclipse of a king.

This made the Romans bolder and brought the Macedonians low in spirit.

So true is the saying that war is full of empty alarms.

Chapter 17 Perseus Loses His Resolve

Lucius, though he had never seen a phalanx at all until he saw one in Perseus' army, used to tell people in Rome afterward that he had never seen anything more frightening and formidable than a Macedonian phalanx, even though he had seen and taken part in many battles, as much as anyone.

Many schemes seem plausible and possible in theory, but when they come to practical use, like counterfeit coins thrown into the fire, they no longer live up to their first design.

Perseus, with only one thought in mind—either to win or to die—did not hold steady in his spirit at that moment, but lost heart, like cavalry scouts who break and run.

As time went on and the strain grew heavier, Perseus' spirit gave way, like athletes in poor condition; for when danger drew near and everything had to be decided, he could not keep his courage firm.

Chapter 18 Perseus Flees the Battle to "Sacrifice"

The Macedonian king, as Polybius says, lost his nerve just as the battle was getting under way and rode off to the city, pretending that he was sacrificing to Heracles, a god who does not accept cowardly offerings from cowards or fulfill unlawful prayers.

Chapter 19 The Senate Makes an Example of the Rhodian Ambassadors

At the time when Perseus, after his defeat, was making his escape, the Senate decided to summon the Rhodian ambassadors, who had come to ask for an end to the war.

Fortune seemed, as if by design, to put the Rhodians' ignorance on display before the stage—if one should call it ignorance of the Rhodians, and not rather of the men who were then dominant at Rhodes.

When the party led by Agepolis entered, they said that they had come to end the war. For the Rhodian people, seeing that the war had dragged on for a long time, and seeing that it was harmful to all the Greeks and also to the Romans themselves because of the enormous expense, had come to that view.

But now that the war had ended according to the Rhodians' wishes, they had come simply to congratulate the Romans. Such, briefly, was what the men around Agepolis said.

The Senate, taking advantage of the moment and wanting to make an example of the Rhodians, delivered a reply whose main point was this:

They did not think that this embassy had been sent by the Rhodians for the sake either of the Greeks or of themselves, but for Perseus.

For if they had been sent on behalf of the Greeks, the more fitting time would have been when Perseus was ravaging Greek territory and cities, while encamped in Thessaly for almost two years [...].

But to let that time pass by, and now to come eagerly seeking an end to the war, when our armies had entered Macedonia and Perseus was shut in with only the faintest hope of survival, made it plain to anyone who judged matters rightly that they had sent their embassy not to end the war, but to rescue Perseus and save him as far as they could.

For that reason, they said, the Romans were under no obligation at present either to show them favor or to answer them kindly.

That was the Senate's decision for the Rhodian ambassadors.

Chapter 20 Perseus an Example of the Impermanence of Fortune

Then the man who took up the Roman language addressed those in the Senate, telling them to look at what was before their eyes and, with Perseus standing there in view, not to boast excessively about successes, not to plot anything arrogant or ruinous against anyone, and in general never to trust present good fortune.

Rather, he said, it was precisely when a man was enjoying the greatest success, whether in private life or in public affairs, that he should be most mindful of the possibility of a reversal.

For even so, a man can hardly show himself moderate in times of prosperity.

He said that this was what distinguished foolish men from sensible ones: the one class learn only from their own misfortunes, the other from the misfortunes of others.

Chapter 21 Uncertainties of Fortune

That is why one is often reminded of the words of Demetrius of Phalerum.

In his treatise on Fortune, wishing to show people clearly how changeable Fortune is, he began with the age of Alexander, when Alexander brought down the Persian empire, and said this:

“If you were to keep in mind not an endless time or many generations, but only the fifty years immediately before our own day, you would recognize the harshness of Fortune here.

For would you have believed, fifty years earlier, if any god had foretold it, that by this time not even the name of the Persians would remain at all—those who had been masters of almost the whole inhabited world—while the Macedonians, whose name was not even known before, would become masters of it all?

And yet Fortune, whose action in our lives is unpredictable, who is always making new things out of what lies beyond our reckoning and showing her power through the unexpected, is even now, in my view, making this plain to all men: she has brought the Macedonians into the prosperity once enjoyed by the Persians, because she has lent these blessings to them too, until she decides something else about them.

“And that is what has now happened in the case of Perseus. So Demetrius, as though inspired by some divine mouth, has spoken prophetically about the future.

As for myself, when I came in my narrative to the time at which the kingdom of Macedon was destroyed, I did not think it right to pass the moment by without comment, since I had myself witnessed the event; rather, I wanted both to speak fittingly on the matter and to recall Demetrius’s words.

For it seems to me that he made a statement more divine than merely human, since he had foretold what would happen almost a hundred and fifty years beforehand.”

Chapter 22 Further Problems for Eumenes

After the battle between Perseus and the Romans had been brought to an end, King Eumenes fell into what seemed, to most people, a strange and unexpected situation; though in truth, if one looks at the course human affairs usually take, it was nothing out of the ordinary.

For Fortune is quite able to upset reasoned plans, and even when she has helped a man and added her own weight to his side, she can turn around again, as if repenting, and immediately spoil what has been achieved.

That is exactly what happened then in Eumenes' case.

For just when he believed that his own rule was now secure and that the coming years would be easy, since Perseus and the whole Macedonian kingdom had been utterly overthrown, he suddenly ran into the gravest danger, because the Galatians in Asia unexpectedly took advantage of the moment and rose up.

Chapter 23 The Ptolemies Ask Help From Achaea

In the Peloponnese, during the winter, ambassadors arrived from both kings—Ptolemy and Ptolemy—asking for help, and this led to repeated and highly spirited debates.

The party around Callicrates, Diophanes, and Hyperbatus did not like the idea of granting aid.

But Archon, Lycortas, and Polybius thought it right to give the kings help in accordance with the existing alliance.

For by then it had happened that the younger Ptolemy had been proclaimed king by the crowd because of the crisis, while the elder had come back from Memphis and was ruling jointly with his brother.

Since they were asking for every kind of support, they sent Eumenes and Dionysodorus to the Achaeans, requesting one thousand foot soldiers and two hundred cavalry, with Lycortas as commander of the whole allied force and Polybius of the cavalry.

They also sent word to Theodoridas of Sicyon, asking him to raise a body of one thousand mercenaries.

This happened because the kings had previously formed a close acquaintance with the men we have mentioned, as a result of the events already described.

When the envoys arrived, the Achaean congress was meeting at Corinth. They accordingly came forward and, after recalling the many proofs of goodwill the Achaeans had shown toward the Egyptian kingdom and setting out the danger the kings were then in, they asked them for help.

The majority of the Achaeans were ready to go to the kings' assistance—both because the kings at that time wore the diadem and exercised royal authority—and not merely with a detachment, but with their

full levy; for the party around Callicrates objected, saying that in general they should not meddle in such matters, and certainly not at that time, but should keep themselves entirely available for Roman needs.

For at that very moment there was especially expected to be a crisis over the whole situation, since Quintus Philippus was wintering in Macedonia.

Chapter 24 The Achaeans Agree to Help the Ptolemies

When many of the people became uncertain and feared that they might seem to fall short of Roman expectations, Lycortas and Polybius took up the argument again and taught them, among other things, that in the previous year the Achaeans had voted to march with their full levy alongside the Romans and had sent Polybius as envoy, but Quintus, after accepting their goodwill, had declined the help, saying that he had no need of it because he had already secured the invasion route into Macedonia.

From this it was clear that their supposed concern for Roman needs was only a pretext for preventing aid from being sent.

So they urged the Achaeans not to overlook the present moment, seeing how great the danger then surrounding the kingdom was, but to keep faith with the agreements and benefactions, and above all with the oaths, by carrying out the treaty.

But when the majority again became inclined toward sending help, the party around Callicrates blocked the motion, intimidating the magistrates by claiming that under the laws it was not lawful to debate aid in the public assembly.

After some time, however, when the congress had been summoned to the city of the Sicyonians, where not only the council but all men over thirty were present, and after several speeches had been made, Polybius in particular argued first that the Romans did not need help—and he seemed to be speaking not without good reason, since he had spent the previous summer in Macedonia in the camp of Philippus—and second, that even if the Romans did need the alliance, the Achaeans would still not be unable to provide help because of the two hundred cavalry and one thousand infantry who were to be sent to Alexandria; for if they were acting wisely, they could field thirty or forty thousand fighting men.

The majority were won over by what they heard and leaned toward sending the allied force.

So on the second of the two days, on which by law those who wished to do so were required to present motions, Lycortas proposed that the aid should be sent, while Callicrates proposed that ambassadors should be dispatched to reconcile the two kings with Antiochus.

When these motions were put forward again, a lively contest followed, but the men around Lycortas clearly had the advantage.

For the comparison between the two kingdoms was very striking.

It was hard to find any act of friendship at all between Syria and the Greeks in earlier times, although the present king's generosity was well known among them; whereas from Egypt there had been so many and such great acts of kindness toward the Achaeans in earlier times that no one could ask for more.

By presenting this contrast, Lycortas made a strong impression, since the difference between the two kingdoms on this point was so great.

For just as it was not easy to count the benefactions of the Alexandrian kings, so it was impossible to find any act of goodwill done by the dynasty of Antiochus for the Achaeans in the course of affairs.

Chapter 25 The Achaeans Choose Mediation over Aid

For a time Andronidas and Callicrates kept using arguments in favor of making peace, but since no one was listening to them, they resorted to a trick.

A letter-carrier happened to come from the road into the theater, bringing a letter from Quintus Marcius, in which he urged the Achaeans, in line with Roman policy, to try to reconcile the kings.

This was also in fact what the Senate had done, sending envoys with Numisius to bring about a settlement between the kings.

But this actually told against their case: for the men with Titus had failed to achieve reconciliation and had returned to Rome completely unsuccessful.

Still, Polybius and his faction did not want to argue against the letter, out of consideration for Marcius, and withdrew from the debate. Thus the proposal to help the kings came to nothing.

The Achaeans then decided to send ambassadors to make the reconciliation, and Archon of Aegira, Arcesilaus, and Ariston of Megalopolis were appointed.

The envoys from Ptolemy, having failed to secure the alliance, then handed over to the magistrates the letter from the kings, which asked the Achaeans to send Lycortas and Polybius to take part in the present war.

Chapter 26 Antiochus Renews the War

Forgetting what he himself had written and said, Antiochus was preparing war against Ptolemy.

So true are Simonides' words: "It is hard to be good."

For it is easy enough to have impulses toward what is noble, and even to hold to them for a while; but to remain steady through every trial, and never to put anything above honor and justice, is difficult indeed.

Chapter 27 Popilius Makes Antiochus Stop the War

When Antiochus had come up with the intention of seizing Pelusium from Ptolemy, the Roman commander Popilius met him. The king greeted him from a distance by voice and extended his right hand; but Popilius, having the tablet ready at hand on which the Senate's decree was written, held it out to him and ordered Antiochus to read it first, as I think, because he did not consider it right to exchange the sign of friendship before he knew the attitude of the man receiving him—whether he was to be a friend or an enemy.

When the king had read it and said that he wished to consult his friends about the matter, Popilius did something that seemed harsh and entirely overbearing: with the vine-rod he happened to have in his hand, he drew a circle around Antiochus and ordered him to give his answer about the contents of the letter before stepping outside that ring.

The king, startled by what had happened and by the display of authority, hesitated briefly and then said that he would do everything the Romans asked. Then Popilius and his companions took his hand and all greeted him warmly.

The order contained in the letter was that the war with Ptolemy should be ended at once.

So a fixed number of days was granted him, and within that time he withdrew his forces into Syria, in pain and anger, though at present submitting to the situation.

Popilius and his companions then set matters in order at Alexandria and urged the kings to live in peace with one another; at the same time they ordered them to send Polyaratus back to Rome.

Then they sailed off to Cyprus, intending also to drive the forces stationed there out of the island without delay.

When they arrived and found that Ptolemy's generals had been defeated in battle and that the situation in Cyprus in general was in confusion, they quickly had the army withdraw from the country and remained there until the forces had sailed off to Syria.

In this way the Romans preserved Ptolemy's kingdom, which was all but ruined.

Thus Fortune so shaped the affairs of Perseus and the Macedonians that Alexandria and the whole of Egypt, though brought to the last extremity, were set upright again, simply because the affairs of Perseus had already been decided.

For if that had not taken place and been settled, I do not think Antiochus would have obeyed the orders given him.

Book XXX

The opulent military and religious procession staged by Antiochus IV at Daphne near Antioch (166 BC). Book XXX, 25–26.

Chapter 1 Attalus Comes to Rome

Olympiad 153, year 1. Affairs in Italy.

At this time Attalus, the brother of King Eumenes, came from him to Rome.

His stated reason was that, even if the Galatian disturbance in the kingdom had not occurred, he would still have come to Rome to congratulate the Senate and receive some public mark of distinction for having fought on their side and shared all their dangers in a friendly spirit.

But as things stood, the Galatian crisis also forced him to come to Rome at that moment.

Since everyone received him graciously, both because of the familiarity formed during the campaign and because he seemed to be well disposed toward them, and since the welcome he met with was greater than he expected, his hopes rose high, because he did not know the true reason for his reception.

So he came close to ruining his own position and the whole kingdom.

For most Romans had become estranged from King Eumenes and his goodwill, and were convinced that during the war he had played a crooked game, talking with Perseus and watching for opportunities against them.

Therefore some of the prominent men took Attalus in hand and urged him to put aside the embassy on his brother’s behalf and speak instead about his own interests.

For, they said, the Senate wished to establish for him a separate power and kingship because of its estrangement from his brother.

As a result Attalus was greatly elated and in private conversations gave assent to those who were pushing him in that direction.

At last he even came to an understanding with certain men of standing that he would enter the Senate and speak on these matters.

Chapter 2 Stratius Sent to Attalus

With opinion at Rome standing this way about Attalus, the king, foreseeing what was coming, sent Stratius the physician to Rome, a man in whom he had the greatest confidence, showing him some

things and instructing him in others to use every device to keep Attalus from following those who wanted to destroy their kingdom.

When Stratius arrived in Rome and got Attalus into his hands, he used many different arguments, for he was a man of good sense and persuasive power.

But only with difficulty did he accomplish his purpose and call Attalus back from his irrational impulse, setting before his eyes the fact that for the present he shared the kingship with his brother, differing from him only in not wearing a diadem and not being styled king, while in every other respect he possessed equal and identical authority.

And for the future he was universally acknowledged as heir to the throne, with that hope not far off, since the king, because of bodily weakness, was always expecting death, and because he had no children could not leave the realm to anyone else even if he wished.

For no natural son had yet been recognized by him, the one who later succeeded to the throne.

Above all, he said, he was astonished that Attalus was doing such harm to the needs of the present moment.

They ought to give great thanks to all the gods if, by standing together and acting with one mind, they could drive off the Galatian danger and the threat now hanging over them.

But if he should now fall into faction and quarrel with his brother, it was obvious that he would bring down the kingdom and deprive himself both of his present authority and of his future hope, while also depriving his brothers of their rule and influence within it.

By pressing these points and others like them, Stratius persuaded Attalus to remain with the existing arrangement.

Chapter 3 Attalus At Rome

Accordingly, when the man already mentioned entered the Senate, he congratulated it on what had happened and defended the goodwill and zeal he had personally shown in the war against Perseus.

In the same way he also urged at length that envoys should be sent to check the Galatians' recklessness and restore them to their former disposition.

He also spoke about Aenus and the city of Maronea, asking that these should be granted to him as a gift.

But he kept silent to the end about any attack on the king and about dividing the kingdom.

The Senate, however, supposing that he would later approach them privately on these questions, promised to send the envoys, honored him lavishly with the customary gifts, and also promised that it would give him the cities just mentioned.

But when, after immediately receiving these courtesies, he set out from Rome without doing any of the things they expected, the Senate, disappointed in its hopes, had nothing else it could do.

So, while he was still in Italy, it declared Aenus and Maronea free cities, thereby withdrawing its promise, and sent Publius Licinius and his colleagues as envoys to the Gauls.

What instructions it gave them is not easy to say, but it is not hard to infer them from what happened afterward.

This will become clear from their actions.

Chapter 4 Rhodian Ambassadors Argue Against War

Envoys also came from Rhodes, first the party led by Philocrates, and after them those led by Philophron and Astymedes.

For when the Rhodians received the answer that Agepolis and his colleagues had obtained immediately after the battle, and saw from it the Senate's anger and threatening posture toward them, they at once sent the embassies just mentioned.

But Astymedes and Philophron, perceiving from their interviews, both public and private, the suspicion and estrangement people felt toward them, fell into complete discouragement and helpless distress.

And when one of the praetors mounted the Rostra and called on the crowd to make war on Rhodes, then indeed, utterly losing their composure because of the danger threatening their country, they went so far as to put on dark clothing and in their appeals no longer tried to persuade or make demands of their friends, but begged them with tears not to decide on any irreparable measure against them.

Some days later Antony the tribune introduced them, the same man who had dragged down from the Rostra the praetor who was urging war; and Philophron spoke first, followed by Astymedes.

Then, after uttering what the proverb calls a swan-song, they received such an answer that they seemed released from their total fear of war, but regarding the specific charges against them the Senate rebuked them harshly and bitterly.

The sense of the reply was this: if it were not for a few men who were their own friends, and especially for these envoys themselves, the Senate well knew how it ought, justly, to deal with them.

Astymedes thought that he had spoken well on behalf of his country, but he pleased neither the Greeks then staying at Rome nor those living at home.

For afterward he published in writing the speech he had composed in defense of Rhodes, and to most people who took it in hand it seemed bizarre and altogether unconvincing.

For he framed his defense not only from the just claims of his own country, but still more from accusations against others.

By setting benefits and services side by side and comparing them, he tried to make those of others seem false and small, while he magnified those of the Rhodians as much as he could.

And conversely, the faults of others he reproached bitterly and maliciously, while those of the Rhodians he tried to cover over, so that by the comparison their own might appear slight and deserving of pardon, whereas those of their neighbors might appear grave and wholly beyond excuse, though, as he said, all who had gone wrong had already obtained pardon.

This kind of defense, however, would never seem fitting for a statesman.

Even in cases where men have acted together in certain secret matters, we do not praise those who, out of fear or for profit, turn informer against their accomplices; rather, we approve those who accept every torture and punishment and do not make any of their fellow-plotters share the same disaster. These are the men we accept; these are the men we consider noble. But the man who, because of some vague fear, lays all other people's errors before those in power and revives matters that time was carrying off into forgetfulness among the rulers—how could he fail to offend all who hear of it?

Chapter 5 The Rhodians Try To Excuse Themselves

After receiving the reply already mentioned, the party with Philocrates set out home at once, while Philophron, Astymedes, and their associates stayed where they were, keeping close watch so that nothing said or done against their country would escape their notice.

When this answer reached Rhodes, the people thought they had been freed from their greatest fear, the fear of war, and so they found it easier to bear everything else, harsh as the situation still was.

So it always happens: when men expect greater disasters, lesser troubles are forgotten.

Accordingly they immediately voted a crown for Rome worth ten thousand gold pieces, and appointed Theaetetus to serve both as envoy and admiral. At the beginning of summer they sent him with the crown, together with Rhodophon and the rest of the embassy, to try by every possible means to conclude an alliance with the Romans.

They acted this way because they did not want a formal decree and embassy to suffer a public rebuff if the Romans decided otherwise. Instead, they preferred to make the attempt under the admiral's own authority, since the laws gave an admiral that power.

For the Rhodian constitution was so practical in its workings that, although the people had for almost a hundred and forty years shared with Rome in some of the most distinguished and admirable enterprises, they had never entered into a formal alliance with them.

It is worth explaining why the Rhodians managed their affairs in this way.

They did not want any ruler or dominant power to despair of receiving help and alliance from them, and so they refused to bind or commit themselves in advance by oaths and treaties. Instead, by remaining uncommitted, they aimed to profit from the hopes each party placed in them.

On this occasion, however, they were especially eager to obtain this mark of honor from the Romans. It was not that they were desperate for an alliance, nor that they were afraid of anyone at that moment except the Romans themselves, but that by giving special weight and dignity to the move they hoped to strip away the suspicions of those who were entertaining hostile thoughts about their city. But just after Theaetetus and his party had sailed, the Caunians revolted, and the people of Mylasa occupied the cities in the district of Euromus.

At the same time the Senate issued a decree that all the Carians and Lycians who had been assigned to the Rhodians after the war with Antiochus were to be free.

The Rhodians quickly set matters right in the case of the Caunians and the people of Euromus.

They sent Lycon with troops and forced the Caunians to submit to them again, although the people of Cibyra came to their aid; and when they campaigned against the cities in the district of Euromus, they defeated the men of Mylasa and Alabanda in battle, both peoples having marched with their armies against Orthosia.

But when the decree about the Lycians and Carians reached them, they again became deeply alarmed, fearing that their gift of the crown had been wasted, and that their hopes of an alliance had been vain as well.

Chapter 6 Greek States and the War With Perseus

Polybius says: I have already called my readers' attention to the conduct of Deinon and Polyaratus.

For the crisis and the reversal were serious not only at Rhodes, but in almost every Greek state.

So it would be useful to examine the intentions of the politicians in each place and determine which of them acted rationally and which failed in their duty, so that those who come after us, with these cases set before them like models, may in similar emergencies truly pursue what is worth choosing and avoid what is to be shunned, and may not, by failing to see what is fitting at the final moment of life, suffer the same fate in their last hour as in the actions of their earlier career.

Now it turned out that there were three distinct classes among those who came under accusation because of the war with Perseus.

One class consisted of men who were not pleased to see the whole issue decided and the rule of the inhabited world falling under a single power, but who nevertheless neither helped nor opposed the Romans in any definite way, instead leaving the outcome to Fortune.

Another class consisted of those who were glad to see the struggle coming to a decision and wanted Perseus to win, but were unable to draw either their own fellow citizens or men of their own people over to their view.

A third class consisted of those who did draw their states with them and turned their constitutions over to the alliance of Perseus. How each of these groups managed its own affairs is worth examining.

Chapter 7 Examples of Three Classes of Statesmen

Antinous, Theodotus, and Cephalus, together with their associates, brought the Molossian people over to Perseus.

When events turned wholly against their designs, and danger closed in on them and disaster came near, they all advanced together to meet the crisis and died bravely.

For that reason these men deserve praise, because they did not surrender themselves or let themselves fall into a condition unworthy of the life they had previously lived.

In Achaea, Thessaly, and Perrhaebia, on the other hand, a number of men came under accusation because they had remained quiet, as though they were waiting on events and favoring Perseus.

But they had never uttered any such proposal in public, nor were they caught either writing or sending messages to Perseus about anything; they kept themselves above reproach.

Therefore such men were right to stand their defense and submit to judgment, and they put every hope to the test.

For when a man knows himself guilty of nothing shameful, it is no less a mark of cowardice to remove himself from life out of fear—whether frightened by the attacks of political rivals or by the power of the victors—than it is to cling to life in a way that violates what honor requires.

Again, in Rhodes and Cos, and in several other cities, there were men who favored the cause of Perseus. They even dared to speak for the Macedonians in their own states, denounce the Romans, and urge joint action with Perseus, but they were unable to swing their governments over to alliance with the king.

The most prominent of these were Hippocrates and his brother Diomedon among the Coans, and Deinon and Polyaratus among the Rhodians.

Chapter 8 Shameless Conduct of the Supporters of Perseus

Who could fail to condemn the policy of such men? Their fellow citizens knew everything they had done and said; the letters sent from Perseus to them and from them to Perseus had been intercepted and brought to light; even the couriers going back and forth on both sides had fallen into their

enemies' hands. Yet they still could not bring themselves to yield or remove themselves from the scene, but kept on contesting the case.

By persisting in this way and clinging to life when all hope was gone, they destroyed whatever appearance of courage and daring had attached to them, and left later generations no room even for pity or indulgence.

For when they were convicted face to face by their own handwritten letters and by the testimony of their agents, they seemed not merely unfortunate, but even more shameless than unfortunate.

There was a man named Thoas among those who made these voyages, and he had often sailed to Macedonia on missions from the men just mentioned.

When the turn of events came, conscious of what he had done, he was afraid and withdrew to Cnidus. But the Cnidians put him in custody, and when the Rhodians demanded him, he was brought to Rhodes.

There, under torture, he was convicted and confessed, and his testimony matched all the signs contained in the letters captured from the prisoners, as well as the letters sent by Perseus to Deinon and Polyaratus and by those men to him.

From all this one could only wonder what reasoning Deinon was using when he still chose to cling to life and endure such a public disgrace.

Chapter 9 Polyaratus of Rhodes

In sheer folly and cowardice, Polyaratus far surpassed Deinon.

For when Popilius ordered King Ptolemy to send Polyaratus to Rome, the king, out of consideration both for his country and for Polyaratus himself, decided not to send him to Rome, but chose instead to send him to Rhodes, since that was also what Polyaratus was asking.

So he provided a small boat, handed Polyaratus over to a certain Demetrius, one of his friends, and sent him off. He also wrote to the Rhodians about the transfer.

But when Polyaratus put in at Phaselis during the voyage and conceived whatever notion it was, he took suppliant boughs in his hands and fled to the public hearth.

If anyone had asked him what he actually wanted, I am persuaded that he could not even have said. For if he wanted to reach his own country, what need was there for suppliant boughs? That was already the destination intended by the men escorting him.

And if he wanted to go to Rome, then whether he wished it or not, that was bound to happen. What other possibility was left? There was no other place that could receive him safely.

Even so, when the people of Phaselis sent to Rhodes and asked them to come fetch Polyaratus and take charge of him, the Rhodians wisely decided to send an unarmed escort vessel, but they forbade its commander to take Polyaratus aboard, because the men from Alexandria had been ordered to convey him on to Rome.

When the ship arrived at Phaselis, Epichares, who was in command of it, refused to receive the man on board.

But Demetrius, who had been appointed by the king to conduct his transfer, ordered him to get up and sail on, and the people of Phaselis backed him, because they were afraid that otherwise some blame from the Romans would fall on them.

So Polyaratus, overwhelmed by the situation, went back aboard the boat with Demetrius. But during the departure, seizing a favorable moment, he ran off and took refuge again, this time in Caunus, and there likewise begged the Caunians to help him.

When they too pushed him away because they were aligned with Rhodes, he sent messages to the people of Cibyra, begging them to receive him into their city and send him an escort.

For he had some claim on that city because the sons of Pancrates the tyrant had been brought up under his care.

They were persuaded and did what he asked, but when he arrived in Cibyra he threw both himself and the Cibyratae into even greater difficulty than before, when he had been at Phaselis.

For they neither dared to keep him with them, because they feared danger from Rome, nor were they able to send him on to Rome, because they had no experience in maritime matters, being entirely an inland people.

In the end they were forced to send envoys to Rhodes and to the Roman commander in Macedonia, asking them to take charge of the man.

And when Lucius wrote to the Cibyratae to keep Polyaratus under careful guard and send him to Rhodes, and to the Rhodians to arrange transport by sea so that he might be conveyed safely into Roman hands, and both parties obeyed these written instructions, in this way Polyaratus finally came to Rome, after making as public a spectacle as he could of his own folly and cowardice, and after being handed over, through his own stupidity, not only by King Ptolemy but also by the people of Phaselis, the Cibyratae, and the Rhodians.

Why, then, have I gone on at such length about Polyaratus and Deinon?

Not in order to seem to trample on their misfortunes. That would be altogether shameful. Rather, by making their folly plain, I hope to better prepare those who fall into similar crises to think and decide well.

Chapter 10 Statue-bases for Perseus Used by Aemilius

Nothing shows more clearly at once the swiftness and instability of Fortune than when a man finds that the very things he thought he was laboring hardest to prepare for his own honor have in fact been made ready for his enemies.

For Perseus was having columns made, and Lucius Aemilius, finding them unfinished, completed them and set up his own statues on them.

He admired the position of the city and the advantageous site of the acropolis for commanding both the regions inside the Isthmus and those beyond it.

After noting the strength of Sicyon and the importance of the city of Argos, he came to Epidaurus.

Having long been eager to see Olympia, he set out there.

Polybius:

Lucius Aemilius entered the sacred precinct at Olympia, and when he saw the statue he was astonished. He said that Pheidias alone seemed to him to have reproduced the Zeus of Homer, because although he had formed great expectations of Olympia, he had found the reality greater than what he had expected.

Chapter 11 Aetolia Sinks into Lawless Violence

The Aetolians had long been accustomed to make their living from plunder and other such lawless practices.

And as long as they were free to prey upon and loot the Greeks, they drew their livelihood from that, regarding every land as enemy territory.

But afterward, when the Romans took control of affairs and they were cut off from support from outside, they turned upon one another.

Even before this, in their civil war, there was no sort of outrage they did not commit.

And not long before, after having tasted one another's blood in the massacres at Arsinoe, they were ready for anything, their minds so brutalized that they would not even allow their leaders to offer advice.

That is why conditions in Aetolia were full of disorder, lawlessness, and murder, and nothing they did was carried out with calculation or settled purpose. Everything was done blindly and in confusion, as if some violent storm had burst upon them.

Chapter 12 Epirus Also In Turmoil

The people of Epirus were acting in much the same way.

For to the extent that most of them were more moderate than the people of Aetolia, to that same extent their leader was more impious and lawless than anyone else.

For I do not think there ever has been, or ever will be, a man more savage or more reckless than Charops.

Chapter 13 The Romanising Party Takes Command Throughout Greece

After the fall of Perseus, as soon as the whole issue had everywhere been decided, embassies were sent from all sides to congratulate the Roman commanders on what had happened.

Since affairs had swung completely over to the Romans, those in every state who were thought to be friends of Rome came to the surface because of the times, and these men were appointed both to embassies and to other public business.

So there came to Macedonia from Achaea Callicrates, Aristodamus, Agesias, and Philip; from Boeotia the party of Mnasippus, from Acarnania the party of Chremas, from the Epirotes the party of Charops and Nicias, and from the Aetolians the party of Lyciscus and Tisippus.

When all these men had gathered together and were eagerly competing for the same purpose, and when no one opposed them because all their political adversaries had given way to circumstances and withdrawn completely, the men already mentioned carried their scheme through without a struggle.

As for the other cities and the federal leagues, the ten commissioners issued their instructions through the generals themselves, specifying which men were to go to Rome.

For the most part, these were the very men whom the persons already mentioned had drawn up against their own political rivals, except for a very few who had plainly done something compromising.

But to the Achaean League they sent as envoys two of the most distinguished men among the ten, Gaius Claudius and Gnaeus Domitius, for two reasons. First, they were afraid that the Achaeans might refuse to obey the written order, and that Callicrates and his associates might even be put in danger, since they were thought to have engineered the accusations against all the Greeks, which was in fact true; and second, because nothing definite had been found in the captured documents against any of the Achaeans.

So after some time the commander sent the letters and the envoys concerning these men, although in his own judgment he did not approve of the slanders made by Lyciscus and Callicrates, as later events themselves made clear.

Chapter 14 Staging Games and Commanding Armies

It takes the same kind of spirit to stage contests well, to manage lavish preparations and a magnificent drinking party properly, and to draw up a battle line against the enemy with a general's skill.

Chapter 15 Paulus Destroys Seventy Cities of Epirus

Polybius says that Paulus destroyed seventy cities of the Epirotes after the overthrow of the Macedonians and of Perseus. Most of them belonged to the Molossians, and he enslaved a hundred and fifty thousand people.

Chapter 16 The Egyptian Kings Thank Rome

After the kings in Egypt had been freed from the war against Antiochus, they first sent Numenius, one of their Friends, as an envoy to Rome to give thanks for the benefits that had been done for them.

They also released Menalcidas the Spartan, who had made energetic use of the crisis that had come upon the kingdom for his own restoration, because Gaius Popilius had requested this favor from the kings on his behalf.

Chapter 17 Rome Restores the Son of Cotys

At this time Cotys, king of the Odrysians, sent envoys to Rome, asking that his son be restored to him and offering a defense of his cooperation with Perseus.

The Romans, thinking that they had already achieved their purpose, since the war against Perseus had ended as they wished, and that their dispute with Cotys no longer mattered, allowed him to recover his son, who had been given as a hostage to Macedonia and had been captured along with the children of Perseus, wishing to display their own clemency and greatness of spirit, and at the same time to bind Cotys to them by such a favor.

Chapter 18 Prusias Grovels before the Senate

At the same time King Prusias also came to Rome to congratulate the Senate and the generals on what had happened.

This Prusias was in no way worthy of the title of king. One may judge this from the following.

When Roman envoys first came to him, he met them with his head shaved, wearing a white felt cap, a toga, and shoes—in short, dressed exactly like those who have only recently been freed among the Romans, whom they call liberti.

And after greeting the envoys he said, “You see before you your freedman, eager in every way to gratify you and imitate your customs.” It would not be easy to find a baser remark.

[…] Then, when he made his entrance into the Senate, he stood facing the assembly at the doorway and, lowering both hands, bowed in reverence to the threshold and to the men seated there, crying out, “Hail, saving gods!” He left no possible excess of cowardice, effeminacy, and flattery for those who might come after him.

And in the audience itself he carried on in a manner consistent with this, about which even to write would have been indecent.

Having made himself utterly contemptible, he received on that very account a kindly answer.

Chapter 19 The Senate Turns Eumenes Away

Now just when he had received his answers, it happened that Eumenes arrived.

This put the Senate in considerable difficulty; for they were prejudiced against him and firmly fixed in their opinions about him, yet did not wish in any way to make their feelings obvious.

For since they had previously proclaimed this king to all the world as their foremost and greatest friend, if they now admitted him to an audience and allowed him to make his defense, then, if they answered in accordance with their real opinions, they would expose themselves for having valued such a man so highly in earlier times; but if, out of deference to appearances, they gave him a gracious reply, they would be overlooking the truth and the interests of their country.

So, since something unwelcome was likely to follow from either course, they found this solution to the dilemma.

As though they were generally displeased by visits from kings, they issued a decree that no king should come to them.

Afterwards, learning that Eumenes had landed in Italy at Brundisium, they sent the quaestor with the decree and instructed him to ask whether he had any business with the Senate; and if he needed nothing, to tell him to leave Italy as quickly as possible.

When the quaestor met him, the king, recognizing the Senate’s intention, in the end said nothing more than that he had no need of anything.

And so Eumenes was prevented from going up to Rome.

This policy also had another practical consequence.

For as a great danger from the Gauls hung over his kingdom, it was obvious that because of this humiliation all the king’s allies would be disheartened, while the Gauls would be doubly encouraged for the war.

And so, being absolutely determined to humble him by every means, they adopted this course.

While these events were still taking place at the beginning of winter, the Senate dealt with all who had arrived on embassies— for there was neither city nor dynast nor king that had not sent an embassy at that time to offer congratulations on what had happened— and answered them all in a fitting and gracious manner, except the Rhodians.

These it dismissed while giving various hints about what was to come. It was still postponing a decision about the Athenians.

Chapter 20 The Athenians Receive Delos and Lemnos

The Athenians came as envoys, at first on behalf of the safety of the people of Haliartus.

But when they were refused a hearing on that point, they changed their approach and spoke about Delos, Lemnos, and the territory of the Haliartians, asking that possession of them be granted to themselves; for they had been given a double set of instructions.

As for Delos and Lemnos, no one could blame them, since they had long laid claim to these islands; but regarding the territory of the Haliartians, one might justly censure them.

For not to do everything possible to restore a city that was among the most ancient in Boeotia after its fall, but instead to blot it out altogether by taking away even the future hopes of its former inhabitants, would plainly seem fitting to no Greek people, and least of all to the Athenians.

For to make their own city open to all, while destroying the cities of others, would seem in no way consistent with the character of their state.

Nevertheless, the Senate gave them Delos and Lemnos and the territory of the Haliartians. This, then, was how matters concerning the Athenians were settled.

As for Lemnos and Delos, according to the proverb they had taken a wolf by the ears; for they endured many hardships in their disputes with the Delians, while from the territory of the Haliartians they gained not so much profit as reproach.

Chapter 21 Theaetetus Dies and Garrisons Are Ordered Out

At this time Theaetetus appeared before the Senate and spoke about the alliance.

But the Senate postponed consideration of the matter, and meanwhile he died a natural death, for he was more than eighty years old.

Then exiles from both Caunus and Stratoniceia came to Rome and were admitted before the Senate, and a decree was passed ordering the Rhodians to withdraw their garrisons from both Caunus and Stratoniceia.

Philophron, Astymedes, and their colleagues, after receiving this reply, sailed home in haste, fearing that if the Rhodians failed to comply with the order to remove the garrisons, they would create fresh grounds for accusation.

Chapter 22 Anicius's Ridiculous Victory Games

Lucius Anicius, who had also served as a Roman general, after defeating the Illyrians and bringing Gentius, the king of the Illyrians, captive along with his children, celebrated victory games at Rome and did things that were utterly ridiculous, as Polybius relates in Book 30.

For he sent for the most distinguished performers from Greece and built an enormous stage in the circus, and first he brought on all the flute-players together.

These were Theodore the Boeotian, Theopompus, Hermippus, and Lysimachus, all men of the highest reputation.

He stationed them on the front of the stage with the chorus and ordered them all to play at once.

But when they were going through their rhythms with the proper movements, he sent instructions that they were not playing well and told them they ought rather to compete with one another.

When they were at a loss, one of the lictors showed them that they should turn, advance against each other, and stage something like a battle.

The flute-players quickly understood, and, taking up [...] well suited to their own excesses, created a tremendous uproar.

Turning the middle choruses to face the outer ones, the flute-players blew with absurd force and drove them against one another in turns, waving their pipes about.

At the same time the choruses beat time, charged across the stage against their opponents, and then wheeled about and retreated again.

And when one of the dancers, tightening his belt and turning at the right moment, raised his fists like a boxer against the oncoming flute-player, then the spectators at last broke into extraordinary applause and shouting.

While these groups were still contending in battle order, two dancers were brought into the orchestra with musical accompaniment, and four boxers mounted the stage along with trumpeters and horn-blowers.

With all these performers going at once, what resulted was beyond description. And as for the tragic actors, Polybius says, whatever I might choose to say would seem to some people like mockery.

Chapter 23 The Rhodians Again Seek an Alliance

At this time the Cnossians, together with the Gortynians, made war on the Raucians and swore agreements with one another that they would not end the war until they had taken Raucus by force.

Meanwhile the Rhodians, when they received the news about the Caunians and saw that Roman anger was still not subsiding, even though they had obeyed every instruction in accordance with the replies they had been given, immediately appointed Aristotle and his colleagues as ambassadors and sent them to Rome, instructing them to make another attempt concerning the alliance.

When they arrived in Rome, at the height of summer, they entered the Senate and at once explained how the people had obeyed the commands laid upon them, and they pleaded for the alliance, speaking at length in many different ways. The Senate gave them a reply in which it passed over friendship in silence, and regarding the alliance said that it was not proper for it to grant that request to the Rhodians at present.

Chapter 24 Delight at Peraea

For the inhabitants of the Peraea were like slaves unexpectedly released from their chains, who, unable to believe the good fortune before them, go beyond normal behavior, because they think that those they meet do not recognize or clearly see that they have truly been set free, unless they do something strange and out of the ordinary.

Chapter 25 Antiochus Stages the Procession at Daphne

This same king, when he heard about the games that Aemilius Paulus, the Roman general, had held in Macedonia, wanted to surpass Paulus in magnificence. So he sent envoys and sacred messengers to the cities to announce the games he would hold at Daphne, and this stirred great eagerness among the Greeks to come to him.

He began the festival with a procession arranged in the following way.

At the head marched five thousand men in Roman equipment, wearing chain-mail cuirasses, all in the prime of life. After them came five thousand Mysians.

Close behind them were three thousand Cilicians armed in the style of light infantry, wearing golden crowns.

After these came three thousand Thracians and five thousand Gauls. Next marched twenty thousand Macedonians, five thousand men with bronze shields, and another corps with silver shields; after them came two hundred and forty pairs of gladiators.

Behind these were the cavalry: one thousand Nisaean horsemen and three thousand of the regular cavalry. Most of them had harness plated with gold and wore golden crowns, while the rest had silver-

plated harness.

After them came the cavalry known as the Companions, about one thousand strong, all with gold-plated harness. Next to them was the regiment of the Friends, equal to them both in numbers and in splendor. After these came one thousand picked horsemen, followed by the corps called the Agema, thought to be the finest body of cavalry, about one thousand strong. Last came the cataphract cavalry, aptly named because both horses and riders were covered with armor. They too numbered one thousand five hundred.

All those mentioned above had purple caparisons, and many had trappings embroidered with gold and figured designs.

After these came one hundred six-horse chariots and forty four-horse chariots, then a chariot drawn by elephants and one drawn by a pair of elephants. Behind them came thirty-six elephants, fully caparisoned, one after another.

The rest of the procession is hard to describe, so it must be given only in summary. About eight hundred young men marched in it wearing golden crowns, there were about one thousand well-fed oxen, the sacred delegations numbered just under three hundred, and there were eight hundred elephant tusks.

The number of statues cannot be fully described. Images were carried of all the gods and divine beings spoken of or worshiped among mankind, and in addition of heroes as well, some gilded and others dressed in robes embroidered with gold.

Alongside all these were displayed the stories proper to each of them, presented according to the traditional accounts in lavish tableaux.

There also followed images of Night and Day, of Earth and Sky, and of Dawn and Midday.

One may judge the quantity of gold and silver plate from this: for one of the king's friends, Dionysius the secretary, had one thousand boys in the procession carrying silver vessels, and none of them weighed less than one thousand drachmas.

Six hundred royal pages also passed by carrying gold vessels. Then two hundred women sprinkled perfumes from golden jars.

After them came eighty women carried in litters with golden feet, and five hundred seated in litters with silver feet, all magnificently adorned. These were the most striking features of the procession.

Chapter 26 Perfumes and Banquets at the Games

When the games, gladiatorial combats, and hunts had been completed over a period of thirty days, during which he presented the spectacles, for the first five days everyone in the gymnasium was anointed from golden vessels with saffron ointment.

There were fifteen of these vessels, and an equal number for cinnamon and nard perfume. In much the same way, on the following days fenugreek, marjoram, and iris perfumes were brought in, all remarkable for their fragrance.

For the banquets, sometimes one thousand dining couches were laid out and sometimes one thousand five hundred, furnished with the utmost luxury.

Chapter 27 Antiochus Charms the Roman Envoys

After the games had been brought to an end, just when they were over, the envoys headed by Tiberius arrived, acting in effect as spies.

Antiochus received them with such tact and friendliness that not only did Tiberius and his colleagues suspect nothing serious or obstructive in his conduct regarding the affairs of Alexandria, but they even condemned those who said anything of the kind, because his welcome was so extraordinarily gracious.

Indeed, besides all his other courtesies, he even yielded the palace itself to the envoys, and in outward appearance almost his diadem as well, though this was not his real disposition, but rather the exact opposite, since he was very unfriendly toward the Romans.

Chapter 28 Autonomy Granted to the Asian Galatians

They granted autonomy to the envoys from the Galatians of Asia, on condition that they remained in their own settlements and did not serve on campaigns outside their own borders.

Chapter 29 Achaeans Shun Callicrates and Andronidas

Throughout the Peloponnese, when the envoys arrived and explained the replies they had received, there was no longer mere uproar, but open anger and hatred against Callicrates and his circle.

One may judge the hatred felt for Callicrates, Andronidas, and the rest of their party from the following.

At the festival of the Antigoneia in Sicyon, all the baths had their common tubs, with separate basins set beside them into which the more refined bathers were accustomed to step privately.

Whenever one of the party of Andronidas and Callicrates got into one of these, none of the bystanders dared get in afterward until the bath attendant had let out all the water that was there and poured in fresh clean water.

They did this because they thought they would be polluted if they stepped into the same water as those men.

As for the hissing at the common festivals of the Greeks, and the jeering whenever any one of the men already mentioned tried to make a public proclamation, no one could easily describe it fully.

Even schoolboys, as they came back from their classes through the streets, were bold enough to call them traitors to their faces. Such was the resentment and hatred that had spread against the men in question.

Chapter 30 Eumenes Accused Before the Senate

When many embassies from different places had arrived in Rome, the most notable being those from Rhodes under Astymedes, from the Achaeans under Euryas, Anaxidamus, and Satyrus, and from Prusias under Python, the Senate took their business in hand.

The envoys from Prusias accused King Eumenes, saying that he was taking away some of their territory and not withdrawing from Galatia at all, nor obeying the decrees of the Senate.

Instead, they said, he was drawing into his own camp those who favored his interests, while in every possible way diminishing those who preferred the Roman side and wished to conduct their public life in accordance with the Senate's decisions.

There were also envoys from the cities of Asia who accused the king, hinting at collusion with Antiochus.

After hearing the accusers, the Senate neither dismissed the charges nor revealed its own opinion, but kept its judgment to itself, being generally suspicious of both Eumenes and Antiochus.

At the same time it was always adding something to the Galatians' cause and strengthening them in the matter of their freedom.

The commissioners with Tiberius, when they returned from their embassy, were unable either to learn anything more precise themselves or to make anything clearer to the Senate about the affairs of Eumenes and Antiochus than what they had already thought while still in Rome.

So thoroughly had the kings forestalled them by the graciousness of their reception.

Chapter 31 Astymedes Pleads for Rhodes

After this the Senate summoned the Rhodians and gave them a hearing.

Astymedes came in and spoke with restraint, and much better than on the previous embassy.

For he gave up accusing others and instead turned to pleading for pardon, like men under the lash begging to be spared the blows, saying that his country had already suffered penalties enough, greater than its offense deserved.

He then went on to explain its losses, summarizing them point by point. First, he said, they had lost Lycia and Caria, regions on which they had spent a great deal of money from the beginning, having been compelled to fight three wars against them, and from which they had once received considerable revenues.

“But perhaps,” he said, “that can still be justified. You yourselves gave those districts to our people as a favor because of our goodwill, and when suspicion and estrangement arose between us, you could plausibly think it reasonable to take them away again.

But Caunus, surely, we bought for two hundred talents from the generals of Ptolemy, and Stratoniceia we received as a great favor from Antiochus, the son of Seleucus.

From these two cities together a yearly revenue of one hundred and twenty talents came to our people. Of all this income we have been deprived, because we wished to obey your commands.

By doing this you have laid a heavier burden on the Rhodians for a single mistake than on the Macedonians, who were your enemies at all times.

And the greatest blow of all to our city is this: your making Delos a free port has ruined our harbor revenues, and you have taken away the people’s political voice, by which both the business of the harbor and every other concern of the city had previously enjoyed the protection suited to them.

That this is true is not hard to learn.

In earlier times the harbor dues produced a million drachmas, but now you have taken away a hundred and fifty thousand. So, Romans, your anger has indeed struck at the principal resources of the city.

If the offense and estrangement had really been shared by the whole people, then perhaps even you might reasonably seem justified in maintaining an unrelenting anger that was hard to appease.

But if you know clearly that only a few men were responsible for this folly, and that all of them have perished at the hands of the people itself, why do you remain irreconcilable toward those who bear no blame, when to everyone else you seem the gentlest and most magnanimous of all men?

Therefore, gentlemen, the people, having lost its revenues, its political voice, and its equal standing, the very things for which in earlier times it had been ready to endure every risk, asks and entreats all of you, now that it has suffered blows enough, to let your anger cease and to restore the alliance, so that this may become plain to everyone: that you have laid aside your anger toward the Rhodians and returned to your original policy and friendship.

For that is what the people needs now, not an alliance of arms and soldiers.”

After speaking in this way, and to much the same effect besides, Astymedes was thought to have adapted his speech well to the circumstances.

Still, what helped the Rhodians most in obtaining the alliance was the recent arrival of the commissioners with Tiberius.

For they testified, first, that the Rhodians had obeyed every decree of the Senate, and second, that all those responsible for the estrangement had been condemned to death among them. In this way they overcame those who spoke against the Rhodians and secured the alliance with Rome.

Chapter 32 The Senate Bars the Detainees' Return

After some time the envoys from the Achaeans entered, carrying instructions consistent with the replies they had previously received.

These instructions were to say that they were astonished that, in a matter on which the Senate had itself already decided, it was now calling on them to give judgment.

So Euryas and his colleagues appeared and once again made it clear that the nation had neither heard the defense of the accused nor delivered any judgment upon them.

They asked the Senate to take thought for these men, so that they might obtain a trial and not be destroyed without judgment, and above all that the Senate itself should investigate the case and identify those truly liable to the charges. But if, because of its many distractions, it could not do this, then it should entrust the matter to the Achaeans, who would deal with the guilty in a spirit that hated wrongdoing.

The Senate heard the envoys, who spoke in accordance with their instructions, but it was embarrassed because it was exposed on every side.

For it did not think that it belonged to it to conduct the trial, and yet to release the men without a trial seemed plainly likely to bring ruin upon those in Greece who were Rome's friends.

So, being compelled by the situation and wishing altogether to take away the hope that many still had for the safety of the detained men, in order that the masses, shutting their eyes, might submit in Achaea to Callicrates and in the other states to those thought to be the Romans' men, it sent back this reply:

"We do not think it advantageous either for the Romans or for your own states that these men should return home."

When this answer was issued, it produced not only complete dejection and paralysis of spirit among the detained men, but among the Greeks as well something like a common mourning, since the reply seemed altogether to take away hope of safety from those under accusation.

And when the answer given to the Achaeans concerning the accused men was published throughout Greece, the masses were crushed in spirit, and a kind of despair spread among men, whereas Charops, Callicrates, and all the leaders of the same policy once more lifted their heads high.

Book XXXI

Prince Demetrius escaping from Italy by night to claim the Seleucid throne, assisted by Polybius (162 BC). Book XXXI, 12–15.

Chapter 1 The Senate Clears Eumenes' Brothers

A. Olympiad 154, year 1. Affairs in Italy.

Tiberius made the Cammani subjects of Rome, partly by force and partly by outwitting them.

When several other embassies had also arrived in Rome, the Senate gave audience to Attalus and Athenaeus and their party.

For Prusias had not only been actively engaged in spreading slanders against Eumenes and Antiochus himself, but had also stirred up the Galatians, the people of Selge, and many others in Asia to support the same cause.

For this reason King Eumenes had sent his brothers, to answer the accusations brought against him.

When they appeared before the Senate, they were judged to have made a satisfactory defense against all their accusers; and in the end they not only cleared away the charges brought against them, but were even honored before returning to Asia.

Even so, the Senate did not let go of its suspicion against Eumenes and Antiochus, but appointed Gaius Sulpicius and Manius Sergius as envoys and sent them out, to inspect conditions among the Greeks, and also to settle for the Megalopolitans and the Lacedaemonians the dispute about the contested territory, but above all to investigate the affairs of Antiochus and Eumenes, lest any preparations and any common enterprise against Rome should be developing between them.

Chapter 2 Demetrius Pleads for His Kingdom

Demetrius son of Seleucus, who had already long been kept in Rome as a hostage, had for some time been thought to be detained contrary to justice.

For Seleucus his father had given him on his own account as a pledge of good faith; but after Antiochus had succeeded to the throne, Demetrius ought not to remain a hostage on behalf of Antiochus' children.

Yet in the earlier period he kept quiet, chiefly because he was powerless, for he was still only a boy.

But now, being in the full prime of life, he came into the Senate and spoke, demanding and entreating them to restore him to his kingdom; for the sovereignty, he said, belonged more properly to him than

to the sons of Antiochus.

After speaking at length on this claim, he pressed his case most strongly by saying that Rome was at once his fatherland and the city that had reared him, that he regarded all the sons of the senators as brothers and the senators themselves as fathers, since he had come there while still an infant and was now twenty-three years old.

All who heard him felt the appeal inwardly; yet the Senate as a body resolved to keep Demetrius in detention and to help secure the throne for the boy who had been left behind. It did this, as it seems to me, because it took note of Demetrius in his full vigor, or rather because it judged that the youth and weakness of the boy who had inherited the kingdom better served Roman interests.

This was made clear by what happened afterward.

They at once appointed as envoys Gnaeus Octavius, Spurius Lucretius, and Lucius Aurelius and sent them out to regulate the affairs of the kingdom, in the way the Senate itself had decided, because no one would stand in the way of what they ordered, since the king was a child and those who managed affairs were glad that the government had not been handed over to Demetrius; for this was what they most wanted.

So Gnaeus and his colleagues set out with instructions first to burn the decked warships, then to hamstring the elephants, and in general to cripple the royal power.

They were also instructed to examine the situation in Macedonia, for the Macedonians, being unaccustomed to a democratic and deliberative constitution, were in civil conflict with one another.

Gnaeus and his party were also to inspect the affairs of the Galatians and the condition of the kingdom of Ariarathes.

And after some time a letter was sent on to them from the Senate instructing them, if possible, to reconcile the kings at Alexandria as well.

Chapter 3 Cappadocian Envoys Renew the Alliance

At the same time envoys arrived from Ariarathes, who had only recently succeeded to the throne of Cappadocia, to renew the friendship and alliance already existing, and in general to urge the Senate to welcome the king's goodwill and eagerness, which he showed both publicly and privately toward all Romans.

After hearing their speech, the Senate renewed both the friendship and the alliance, and, approving the king's general policy, treated him with kindness.

This happened chiefly because Tiberius and his colleagues, when they had been sent out to inspect the affairs of the kings, came back and spoke favorably both of the king's father and of the kingdom as a whole.

Trusting their report, the senators gave the envoys a gracious reception and likewise approved the king's overall course.

Chapter 4 Rhodes Seeks Calynda and Votes a Colossus

The Rhodians, having recovered from the distress that had overtaken them, sent envoys to Rome headed by Cleagoras, to ask that Calynda should be granted to them, and also, concerning those who possessed property in Lycia and Caria, to request from the Senate that they might be allowed to hold it, as they had before.

They also voted to set up in the sanctuary of Athena a colossal statue of the Roman people, thirty cubits high.

Chapter 5 Calynda Passes under Rhodian Protection

When the people of Calynda revolted from the Caunians, and the Caunians afterward undertook to besiege them, the Calyndians at first appealed to the Cnidians.

When the Cnidians came to their aid, they held out against their enemies for a time, but, anxious about what would happen next, they sent an embassy [...], entrusting themselves and their city.

The Rhodians sent support both by land and by sea, raised the siege, and took over the city.

It so happened that the Senate also confirmed their possession of Calynda.

Chapter 6 Complaints Against Eumenes

Gaius Gallus, apart from the irrational conduct just mentioned, when he arrived in Asia posted notices in the most prominent cities, ordering anyone who wished to accuse King Eumenes to appear at Sardis at an appointed time.

Then he himself came to Sardis, took his seat in the gymnasium, and for about ten days listened to the accusers, accepting every kind of foul and abusive language against the king, and in general dragging in every possible affair and accusation, like a man unbalanced in mind and eager to win distinction in his quarrel with Eumenes.

And the more harshly the Romans seemed to deal with Eumenes, the more the Greeks were drawn toward him, since human nature always gives its sympathy to the man under pressure.

Chapter 7 Ariarathes Recovers the Bones of His Kin

King Ariarathes of Cappadocia received the envoys who had been sent to Rome, and, judging from the answers they brought back that his throne now stood on firm ground because he had gained the goodwill of the Romans, he offered thank-offerings to the gods for what had happened and entertained the leading men.

After this he sent envoys to Lysias and his party at Antioch, eager to recover the bones of his sister and mother.

He decided not to bring any charge of impiety over what had happened, because he did not want to provoke Lysias and his party and so fail in his purpose, though he took the matter deeply to heart; instead, he gave the envoys instructions suited to their rank and sent them off.

When Lysias and his party consented, and the bones were brought back to him, he received them with great honor on their arrival and buried them beside his father's tomb with proper care.

Chapter 8 Ariarathes Receives the Roman Envoys

At this time envoys arrived from Rome, first those with Marcus Junius, to clarify the king's disputes with the Galatians.

For when the Trocmi had been unable by their own efforts to cut off any part of Cappadocia for themselves, they brazenly manufactured a case and, by appealing to the Romans, tried to slander Ariarathes.

That is why the envoys with Junius were sent. The king addressed them as was fitting and otherwise treated them with kindness, so that he sent them away speaking well of him.

After this, when envoys arrived with Gnaeus Octavius and Spurius Lucretius and again discussed with the king his disputes with the Galatians, he spoke only briefly and in general terms about those matters, saying that he was ready to accept whatever judgment was made, and then devoted the greater part of his speech to affairs in Syria, since he knew that Octavius and his party were proceeding there, pointing out to them the instability of the kingdom there and the rashness of the men in charge of it, and also promising that he would follow with a force and support the situation until they returned safely from Syria.

The envoys with Gnaeus, approving in every respect the king's goodwill and eagerness, said that for the present they had no need of an escort, but that in the future, if any need arose, they would let him know without hesitation; for they judged him to be one of Rome's true friends.

Chapter 9 Antiochus Dies after the Elymais Raid

In Syria King Antiochus, wanting to raise money, resolved to march against the temple of Artemis in Elymais.

But when he reached the place, his hopes were disappointed, because the barbarians living around the sanctuary would not permit this act of sacrilege.

So he withdrew, and on his retreat he died at Tabae in Persia.

Some say that he went mad, because certain signs of divine anger appeared in response to the lawless outrage he had attempted against that sanctuary.

Chapter 10 Younger Ptolemy Asks Rome for Cyprus

B. Olympiad 154, year 2. Affairs in Italy.

After the kingdom had been divided between the Ptolemies, the younger Ptolemy came to Rome, wishing to set aside the partition that had been made between himself and his brother.

He said that he had not agreed to it willingly, but had done what was demanded only because circumstances had forced him.

He begged the Senate to assign Cyprus to him, arguing that even if this were done his share would still be far inferior to his brother's.

But Canuleius and Quintus and their colleagues bore witness in support of Menyllus and the envoys who had come from the elder brother, saying that the younger brother owed not only Cyrene but even his life to them, since the hostility and estrangement of the crowds toward him had become so severe.

That was why, when the settlement concerning Cyrene had been granted to him unexpectedly and beyond hope, he had gladly accepted it, had offered sacrifices, and had both received and sworn the oaths with his brother.

Ptolemy, however, disputed all this. The Senate, seeing on the one hand that the division [...] had been completely settled, but on the other wishing in practical terms to break up the kingdom, now that the brothers themselves had supplied the pretext for division, agreed to the younger brother's requests for its own advantage.

For this has long been a Roman practice in policy: by taking advantage of the ignorance of neighboring peoples, they strengthen and extend their own power in practical ways, while at the same time gratifying those who make mistakes and seeming to bestow favors on them.

So, seeing the scale of Egyptian power and fearing that if it should ever obtain a capable protector it might grow more ambitious than was proper, they appointed Titus Torquatus and Gnaeus Merula as envoys to escort Ptolemy to Cyprus and at the same time carry out both his design and their own.

They sent them off at once, with instructions to reconcile the brothers and secure Cyprus for the younger without war.

Chapter 11 Demetrius Appeals to the Senate Again

At this same time, when the disaster involving Gnaeus had taken place, that is, when he had been killed, and when envoys sent by King Antiochus, men dispatched by Lysias, had arrived and spoken at length to show that the king's friends had had no part in the deed, the Senate dismissed the envoys, not wishing to give any decision on the matter or to reveal its opinion at all.

Demetrius, alarmed by what had been reported, summoned Polybius and asked him in perplexity whether he ought to approach the Senate again about his own affairs.

Polybius urged him not to stumble twice against the same stone, but to place his hopes in himself and dare something worthy of a kingdom, since the present moment, he said, offered many openings.

Demetrius took the meaning of this, and for the moment said nothing; but a little later he shared the matter with one of his close companions, Apollonius.

Apollonius, who was innocent by nature and very young, advised him to make one more attempt with the Senate. He was convinced that, although they had unreasonably deprived him of the kingdom, they would at least release him from his hostage status.

For it was completely absurd, he said, that now that Antiochus' son had succeeded to the kingdom in Syria, Demetrius should remain a hostage on his behalf.

Persuaded by these arguments, Demetrius once more entered the Senate and begged them at least to free him from the obligation of being a hostage, since they had decided to secure the kingdom for Antiochus.

But although he spoke at still greater length on this point, the Senate remained with the same decision, as was only natural.

For even before, it had not resolved to preserve the rule for the boy because Demetrius had failed to make a just claim, but because that course served its own interests.

And since the whole situation remained in the same condition, it was natural that the Senate's judgment should also remain fixed on the same policy.

Chapter 12 Diodorus Urges Demetrius to Flee Rome

Yet Demetrius, after having wasted his breath in that final appeal and recognizing that Polybius had advised him well not to stumble twice against the same stone, repented of what had happened; and being high-minded by nature and possessing courage equal to the decision he had to make, he immediately called for Diodorus, who had recently arrived from Syria, and confided his situation to him.

Diodorus had once been Demetrius' tutor, and, being a shrewd man who had closely observed conditions in Syria, he pointed out to him that since affairs there were in confusion because of the murder of Gnaeus, and since the masses distrusted Lysias' circle while Lysias' circle distrusted the masses, and since the Senate was convinced that the outrage committed against its envoys had been the work of the king's friends, this was the best possible time for him to appear on the scene.

For the people there would quickly transfer the kingship to him, even if he arrived with only a single attendant, and the Senate would no longer dare to support or reinforce Lysias and his party after what they had done.

The only thing left, he said, was for them to get away from Rome unnoticed, so that no one would suspect his plan.

When this seemed good, Demetrius sent for Polybius, told him what had been decided, and asked him to help take charge of the attempt and think through how his escape should be managed.

Now at this time Menyllus of Alabanda happened to be in Rome as an envoy from the elder King Ptolemy, sent to support his cause and justify him against the younger Ptolemy. Polybius already had a strong friendship and bond of trust with Menyllus.

Thinking therefore that Menyllus would be useful in the present need, Polybius introduced him to Demetrius with great eagerness and zeal.

Menyllus, after joining the enterprise, undertook to prepare a ship and complete the other arrangements for the voyage.

He found at the mouth of the Tiber a Carthaginian sacred ship lying at anchor, and hired it.

These ships are specially selected from Carthage, and the Carthaginians send on them their ancestral firstfruits to the gods at Tyre; but he openly hired this one for his own return passage.

So he made the monthly provisioning without arousing suspicion, and openly gave orders and spoke with the sailors.

Chapter 13 Polybius Warns Demetrius in a Note

Once everything was ready on the shipmaster's side, and Demetrius only had to complete his own arrangements, he sent his foster-father ahead to Syria to gather intelligence and observe what was happening there among the populace.

His companion Apollonius had shared in the plan from the beginning; and, since there were two brothers, Meleager and Menestheus, he disclosed the undertaking to them, but to no one else among his followers, though they were more numerous.

These men were Apollonius' own sons. Their father had enjoyed great influence with Seleucus, but when Antiochus took over the kingdom he had withdrawn to Miletus.

As the day agreed upon with the sailors drew near, there had to be a farewell entertainment at the house of one of his friends before the departure.

For it was impossible to hold the dinner at his own quarters, since he was accustomed to invite everyone in his circle with great care.

Those who knew of the plan were to dine at home and then come to the ship, each bringing one servant-boy with him; the rest they had sent on to Anagnia, intending to follow themselves on the next day.

At this time Polybius happened to be ill and confined to bed, but he knew everything that was being done, because Menyllus kept continually informing him of each new development.

So Polybius, anxious that habit might get the better of Demetrius—since he was naturally fond of drinking parties and still altogether young—and that drunkenness might create some difficulty at the moment of departure, wrote a short note, sealed it, and at dusk sent one of his own servants with instructions to call out Demetrius' cupbearer, hand him the note without saying who he was or who had sent it, and tell him to give it to Demetrius at once for immediate reading.

Everything was done as arranged, and Demetrius took the note and read it.

THE NOTE CONTAINED THESE THOUGHTS:

The man who acts with the future in mind goes forward prepared.

Night gives equal cover to all, but to the daring it gives more.

Dare something, risk it, act, fail, or succeed—anything rather than betray yourself.

Stay sober, and remember to mistrust: these are the sinews of good sense.

CHAPTER 14 Demetrius Slips Away from Rome

After reading this and understanding the situation, and who the men were and who had sent them, Demetrius at once pretended to be sick with nausea and took his leave, his friends escorting him part of the way.

When he reached his lodging, he sent off the unnecessary servants to Anagnia, ordering them to take the nets and the dogs and meet him at Circeii.

For that was where he regularly liked to hunt wild boar with special zeal; indeed, this had been the original beginning of his friendship with Polybius.

After this he explained the plan to Nicanor and his companions and urged them to share the same hopes.

Since they all accepted the proposal eagerly, he ordered them to go back at once to their lodgings and instruct their servants to go on ahead before dawn to Anagnia and, together with the hunters, meet them at Circeii, while they themselves were to take traveling clothes and return to him, telling their servants that on the next day they would join Demetrius at the place already mentioned.

When everything had been done as described, they set out by night for Ostia, to the mouth of the Tiber.

Menyllus went on ahead and spoke with the sailors, saying that a message had come to him from the king, and that for this reason he himself had to remain in Rome for the present, but should send to the king the most trustworthy of the young men, from whom he would learn everything concerning his brother.

So he said that he himself would not embark, but that the young men who were to sail would arrive about midnight.

The shipmasters were indifferent, because the freight agreed on had been paid to them from the beginning and they had long had everything ready for the voyage.

The party with Demetrius arrived as the third watch was ending: there were eight of them, with five servant-boys and three younger attendants.

Menyllus then talked matters over with them, showed them the monthly provisions, and further introduced them fully to the shipmaster and the passengers; after that they went aboard.

At first light the captain weighed anchor and put to sea, having absolutely no suspicion of what was really going on, but thinking that he was simply carrying some soldiers from Menyllus to Ptolemy.

Chapter 15 Demetrius's Flight Is Discovered

On the next day in Rome no one was likely to go looking for Demetrius or for the companions who had left with him.

Those who stayed behind with him thought that he had gone off to Circeii, while those at Anagnia were coming to meet him at the same place, expecting that he would be there.

So the escape remained completely unnoticed until one of the servant-boys, after being flogged at Anagnia, ran off to Circeii, intending to join Demetrius there.

Not finding him there either, he ran back to Rome, expecting to meet him on the road.

When he failed to encounter him anywhere, he revealed the matter to Demetrius' friends in Rome and to those who had been left behind at the house.

So when Demetrius was looked for on the fourth day after his departure, what had happened was suspected.

On the fifth day the Senate at once met to consider the matter; by then Demetrius was already beyond the strait near Sicily.

They therefore gave up the idea of pursuit, both because they thought he had already gained too great a lead on the voyage—for he had a strong following wind—and because they foresaw that even if they wished to stop him, they would be unable to do so.

After some days they appointed as envoys Tiberius Gracchus, Lucius Lentulus, and Servilius Glaucia, who were first to inspect affairs among the Greeks, then to cross over into Asia and keep watch on the situation concerning Demetrius, examine the intentions of the other kings, and clear up the disputed issues involving the Galatians that were mentioned earlier.

This was why they appointed Tiberius [...] to have been an eyewitness of everything.

And this was the state of affairs in Italy.

Demetrius, meanwhile, was intent on the arrival of the man who was to be sent to him.

Chapter 16 Artaxias Spared at Ariarathes' Urging

Artaxias wanted to recover [...]; but at Ariarathes' urging he did not do so, and instead treated the man with greater honor than before. So great is the power that belongs to justice by its very nature, and so great too are the judgments and counsels of good men, that they often save not only friends but even enemies and change their characters for the better.

Beauty is a stronger recommendation than any letter of introduction.

Chapter 17 Ptolemy Disbands His Mercenaries

After this, the younger Ptolemy arrived in Greece with the envoys and began gathering a substantial force of mercenaries. Among those he enlisted was the Macedonian Damasippus, who had butchered the members of the council at Phacus and then fled from Macedonia with his wife and children.

When Ptolemy reached the Rhodian Peraea and was received as a guest by the people there, he intended to sail on to Cyprus.

But Torquatus and his colleagues, seeing that he had assembled a formidable foreign force, reminded him of their instructions: the enterprise was to be carried through without war.

At last they persuaded him to lead the mercenaries only as far as Side, then disband them, give up the attempt on Cyprus, and join them instead on the frontier of Cyrene.

They themselves said they would sail to Alexandria, induce the king to comply with their requests, and meet him on the frontier, bringing that king with them.

Convinced by these arguments, the younger Ptolemy gave up the Cyprus project and disbanded his mercenary force.

He himself first sailed to Crete, taking with him Damasippus and one of the envoys, Gnaeus Merula. After recruiting about a thousand soldiers in Crete, he put to sea, crossed over to Libya, and landed at Apis.

Chapter 18 Ptolemy Marches on Cyrene and Is Defeated

The party with Torquatus, after being conveyed to Alexandria, tried to persuade the elder Ptolemy to come to terms with his brother and yield Cyprus to him.

But Ptolemy partly made promises and partly ignored them, and by this method simply dragged out the time.

Meanwhile the younger Ptolemy was encamped with the Cretans in Libya near Apis, in accordance with the arrangement, and was thoroughly irritated that nothing had been made clear. At first he sent Gnaeus to Alexandria, hoping that through him he might at least get matters moving with Torquatus and his party.

But when he too was treated just like the others, and time kept being stretched out, and forty days passed without any result, Ptolemy fell into uncertainty about the whole situation.

For the elder king, by offering every kind of courtesy, had won over the envoys one by one and kept most of them there, not of their own choice but against their will.

At this same time news reached the younger Ptolemy that the Cyrenaeans had revolted, that the cities were siding with them, and that a certain Ptolemy called Sympetesis had also joined in the revolt.

He was an Egyptian by birth and had been entrusted by the king with general supervision of affairs at the time when Ptolemy sailed to Rome.

When these reports reached the king, and shortly afterward came word that the Cyrenaeans were encamped in the open country, he feared that in trying to seize Cyprus he might lose Cyrene as well. So, putting every other concern aside, he broke camp and marched for Cyrene.

When he reached the place called the Great Catabathmus, he found the Libyans together with the Cyrenaeans holding the difficult ground.

Pressed by the situation, Ptolemy put half his soldiers aboard the ships and ordered them to sail around the rough terrain and show themselves in the enemy’s rear, while he himself, with the other half, forced a frontal ascent.

The Libyans were alarmed by the attack from both sides and abandoned the position; so Ptolemy at once gained control both of the ascent and of the district below called Tetrapyrgia, where there was an abundant supply of water.

Setting out from there, he completed a seven-day march through the desert.

While his ships also coasted along past Mochyrinus, it turned out that the Cyrenaeans were encamped with about eight thousand infantry and some five hundred cavalry.

For the Cyrenaeans, having learned Ptolemy's character from what had happened at Alexandria, and seeing that his rule and his whole policy were not royal but tyrannical, could not bring themselves to submit voluntarily. Instead, they dared to endure anything, holding fast to the hope of freedom.

So when he approached, they drew up to meet him in battle; and in the end Ptolemy was defeated.

Chapter 19 Ptolemy Sends Envoys to Rome

At this time Gnaeus Merula also arrived from Alexandria and informed the king that his brother had accepted none of the demands, but said that they must stand by the terms originally agreed upon.

When the king heard this, he immediately selected the brothers Comanus and Ptolemy and sent them as envoys to Rome with Gnaeus, to explain to the Senate his brother's greed and contemptuous behavior.

At the same time the elder Ptolemy dismissed Titus and his companions without accomplishing anything.

That, then, was the situation at Alexandria and Cyrene.

Chapter 20 The Senate Backs the Younger Ptolemy

C. Olympiad 154, year 3. Affairs in Italy.

At the period under discussion envoys arrived from the younger Ptolemy, headed by Comanus, and likewise from the elder brother, headed by Menyllus of Alabanda.

When they entered the Senate, many speeches were delivered, and hostile accusations were exchanged face to face. The men attached to Titus and Gnaeus testified against the elder king and strongly supported the younger.

The Senate therefore decided that Menyllus and his party must leave Rome within five days, that the alliance with the elder Ptolemy should be revoked, and that envoys should be sent to the younger brother to report the Senate's decision.

Accordingly Publius Apustius and Gaius Lentulus were appointed. They sailed at once to Cyrene and delivered the Senate's decree to Ptolemy with all speed.

Ptolemy was immediately elated; he began hiring mercenaries at once and devoted himself wholly to plans for an attack on Cyprus.

And this was the state of affairs in Italy.

Chapter 21 Masinissa Seizes the Emporia from Carthage

In Libya, Masinissa saw the large number of cities founded around the Lesser Syrtis, the beauty of the district called Emporia, and the great revenues long produced there; and for a long time he had had his eye on these advantages.

So, not many years before the present time, he resolved to put the Carthaginians to the test.

He quickly made himself master of the countryside, since he controlled the open country and the Carthaginians had always been strangers to work on the land; and at that time they had been completely softened by a long peace.

But he was unable to gain control of the cities, because the Carthaginians kept careful watch over them.

Since both sides kept referring the disputed claims to the Senate, and envoys had often come from each party on this business, it always happened that the Carthaginians got the worse of it with the Romans, not because justice was on the other side, but because the judges were convinced that such a decision suited Roman interests.

And yet, not many years earlier, Masinissa himself, while pursuing the rebel Aphther with an army, had asked the Carthaginians for passage through this territory, and they had refused, on the ground that it did not belong to him at all.

But in the end the Carthaginians were brought, by the decisions now being given, to such a pass that they lost not only the cities and the territory, but also had to add five hundred talents for the revenue of the intervening years, from the time when the dispute first arose.

Chapter 22 Aemilius Paullus Proved Honest in Death

The greatest and finest proof of Lucius Aemilius's character became plain to everyone after his death.

For the impression formed of his way of life while he was alive was found to be true even after he had passed away; and that, one might say, is the strongest evidence of virtue.

Though he had brought more gold from Iberia to Rome than any of his contemporaries, had become master of immense treasures in Macedonia, and had possessed the fullest authority in all these

matters, he nevertheless left his private fortune in such a state that [...] his family could not repay his wife's entire dowry out of the household property unless they sold off some of the landed estate as well. I have spoken of this in detail earlier.

From this one may say that the reputation of the Greek statesmen admired on this score is eclipsed.

For if it is admirable to refuse money that is offered in the giver's own interest, as is said of Aristides of Athens and Epaminondas of Thebes, how much more admirable is it, after becoming master of an entire kingdom and receiving full power to use it however one wished, to have desired none of it at all?

If what I say seems unbelievable to some, they should keep this in mind: the writer knew perfectly well that Romans above all would take these books into their hands, because they contain the most notable and the greater part of Roman achievements.

Among such readers these facts could neither remain unknown nor would a liar likely receive pardon.

Therefore no one would willingly expose himself to open disbelief and contempt.

Let this be remembered throughout the whole work whenever I seem to say something surprising about the Romans.

Chapter 23 Scipio Confides His Worry to Polybius

Now that the course of the narrative and the sequence of events have brought me to this household, I want, for the benefit of readers who enjoy such matters, to make good the promise I left unfulfilled in the previous book.

For I had promised to explain why and how Scipio's reputation in Rome advanced so far and shone out more quickly than might have been expected, and at the same time how Polybius's friendship and intimacy with him grew so great that the report of them spread not only through Italy and Greece, but even farther away their principles and their way of life became well known.

I have already explained that the beginning of their association came from the use of books and from conversations about them.

As their friendship progressed, and the detainees who had been summoned were being sent back to their own cities, the two young men, Fabius and Scipio, sons of Lucius, earnestly pressed that Polybius should remain in Rome.

Once this had happened, and their companionship had advanced a great deal, there occurred an incident of the following kind.

One day, when they were all leaving Fabius's house together, Fabius happened to turn aside toward the forum, while Polybius went another way with Scipio.

As they walked on, Publius, speaking quietly and gently, and blushing as he spoke, said, “What is this, Polybius? We are two brothers, yet you are always talking with him, putting all your questions to him and giving all your answers to him, while you pass me over.

Or is it clear that you too hold the same opinion of me that, as I hear, the other citizens hold?

For I seem to everyone, so I am told, to be quiet and sluggish, and far removed from the Roman character and manner of action, because I do not choose to plead cases in court.

And they say that the family I come from wants not such a protector, but the very opposite; and that is what pains me most.”

Chapter 24 Polybius Pledges Friendship to Scipio

Polybius was surprised at the way the young man had begun the conversation, for he was then not yet more than eighteen years old.

“For heaven’s sake, Scipio,” he said, “do not say such things, and do not entertain them in your mind at all.

It is not because I think less of you or pass you over that I act this way—far from it. It is simply because your brother is older that in conversation I begin with him and end with him again, and in judgments and advice I lean on him, assuming that you share the same opinions as he does.

But I admire you now when I hear that you think it painful to be milder than is fitting for one sprung from this house; for by these words you plainly show that your ambitions are high.

And I myself would gladly devote my efforts to you and become your helper, so that you may both speak and act in a way worthy of your ancestors.

As for the studies in which I now see you and your brother taking such pains and competing for distinction, you will not lack men ready to help you, both you and him.

For at present I see a whole crowd of such people pouring in from Greece.

But in the matter that troubles you now most of all, as you say, I think you would find no one better suited than me to stand beside you and help you.”

While Polybius was still speaking, Scipio took his right hand in both of his own and pressed it warmly. “If only I could see that day,” he said, “when you, putting everything else second, would devote your attention to me and live with me as my companion.

For from that moment I would think myself at once worthy of my house and of my ancestors.”

Polybius was pleased as he watched the young man’s zeal and frankness, but he was also at a loss when he reflected on the greatness of the family and the standing of the men around it.

Even so, from the time of this exchange onward, the young man never separated himself from Polybius, and everything else became secondary to Polybius's company.

Chapter 25 Scipio Chooses Self-Control amid Roman Decadence

From this time onward, by continually proving themselves to one another in practical matters, they came to feel toward each other the affection of father and son, and of close kinsmen.

Scipio's first impulse and zeal for noble conduct was to win a reputation for self-control and in this respect to surpass the rest of those of his own age.

And though this prize was great and hard to win, at that time in Rome it was easy to seize, because most men were rushing in the opposite direction.

Some of the young men were giving themselves over to boys, others to courtesans, and many to entertainments, drinking parties, and the extravagance connected with them, having quickly adopted during the war with Perseus the Greek looseness in such things.

So great a lack of self-mastery had fallen upon the youth in matters of this kind that many had bought a favorite for a talent, and many a jar of Pontic salt fish for three hundred drachmas.

Indignant at this, Marcus once said to the people that they could see most clearly from such things how far the constitution had declined, when handsome boys fetched a higher price than farms, and jars of preserved fish than teamsters.

This tendency blazed out, as it were, at the time we are speaking of, first because, now that the Macedonian monarchy had been overthrown, the Romans thought their supremacy over the whole world beyond dispute, and then because a great display of prosperity had arisen both in private life and in public affairs, from the wealth brought from Macedonia to Rome.

But Scipio, setting himself toward the opposite manner of life, resisting every desire, and making his conduct throughout consistent and harmonious, within perhaps his first five years made his reputation for discipline and self-control known to everyone.

After this he continually aimed to surpass the rest in greatness of spirit and integrity in money matters.

For this side of his character he had a fine foundation in his life with his natural father; he himself also had by nature good impulses toward what was right; and much besides came of itself to help forward this purpose.

Chapter 26 Scipio Gives Aemilia's Equipage to His Mother

The first event was the death of the mother of his adoptive father, who was the sister of his natural father Lucius and the wife of his adoptive grandfather Scipio, the one called the Great.

When she left a large estate, and he became her heir, he was first to give proof in this matter of the principles on which he had chosen to live.

This woman, whose name was Aemilia, had maintained a magnificent establishment for women's public appearances, as was natural for one who had shared the life and fortune of Scipio.

For apart from the adornment of her own person and carriage, the baskets, cups, and other objects used in sacrifice, sometimes of silver and sometimes of gold, all accompanied her on her more splendid outings.

And along with these went the large number of maidservants and household attendants who followed in her train.

This entire establishment, immediately after Aemilia's funeral, Scipio gave to his mother [...], who had long since been separated from Lucius and whose means of support were less ample than her noble birth would suggest.

So, whereas before that time she had kept away from distinguished public appearances, when by chance there came a splendid and well-attended sacrifice, she went out with Aemilia's full equipment and provision, and with the same muleteers, team, and carriage besides.

As a result, the women who witnessed it were astonished at Scipio's kindness and generosity, and all stretched out their hands in prayer, calling down many blessings on him.

This would naturally seem admirable anywhere, but at Rome it seemed positively astonishing, since no one there simply gives any part of his private property to anyone else of his own free will.

This, then, was the first beginning of his reputation for nobility of character, and it advanced him greatly, since the female sex is both talkative and lavish in spreading whatever captures its interest.

Chapter 27 Scipio Pays His Aunts' Dowries Early

After this, he was obliged to pay the remaining half of the dowries owed to the daughters of Scipio the Great, who were the sisters of his adoptive father [...].

For his father had agreed to give each of the two daughters fifty talents, and of this amount their mother had immediately paid one half to their husbands, while at her death she left the other half still owing.

So Scipio had to discharge this debt to his father's sisters.

Now according to Roman law the money still owing as dowry had to be paid to the women in three yearly installments, after the furniture had first been sold within ten months, according to their

custom.

But Scipio at once instructed his banker to pay each woman her twenty-five talents within those ten months.

When Tiberius and Scipio Nasica—for these were the husbands of the women just mentioned—came to the banker as soon as the ten months had expired and asked whether Scipio had given him any instructions about the money, and he told them to collect it and wrote out drafts to each of them for twenty-five talents, they said he must be mistaken.

For, they said, according to the law they should receive not the whole amount now, but only the third part at present.

But when he insisted that Scipio had given exactly those instructions, they did not believe him and went on to the young man, supposing that he did not understand the matter. Nor was this unreasonable.

For no one in Rome would pay fifty talents before the three years were up—indeed, not even a single talent before the appointed day.

So universal and so great among them all is their exactness in matters of legal claim, and at the same time their regard for the advantage of delay.

Nevertheless, when they approached him and asked why he had instructed the banker in this way, and he replied that the whole sum was to be paid to his sisters, they said that he did not understand, while at the same time showing a guardian's concern.

For under the laws, they said, he was still entitled for a considerable time to make use of the sums at issue.

But Scipio said that he was perfectly well aware of all this, yet that toward outsiders he observed the strictness of the law, whereas toward relatives and friends he acted simply and generously, as far as he could.

Therefore he told them to take the whole amount from the banker.

When Tiberius and the others heard this, they went away in silence, overwhelmed by Scipio's greatness of spirit and condemning their own pettiness, though they were second to none among the Romans.

Chapter 28 Scipio Yields His Inheritance to Fabius

Two years later his natural father Lucius died, leaving him and his brother Fabius as heirs to the estate; on this occasion Scipio did something noble and worthy of remembrance.

For Lucius, being left without children in his own house—since some had been given in adoption into other families, and the rest of the sons whom he had been rearing as successors to the family had all died—left his estate to these two.

Scipio, seeing that his brother was less well supplied with means, gave up his own share of all the property, whose total value was more than sixty talents, so that in this way Fabius might possess wealth equal to his own.

When this became widely talked about, he added to it another and even clearer proof of the principles by which he lived.

His brother wanted to give gladiatorial games in honor of their father, but was unable to bear the expense because of the amount of money required, and Scipio contributed half the cost from his own fortune.

And the total expense is not less than thirty talents, if a man puts on the show magnificently.

[...] while the report of his character was spreading abroad, his mother died.

He was so far from reclaiming anything that he had previously given her, about which I have just spoken, that he handed over both those gifts and all the rest of his mother's property to his sisters, although by law none of it belonged to them.

So when the sisters once again took over Aemilia's display and retinue for their public appearances, the generosity and family affection of Scipio's character were once more brought freshly into notice.

Thus, prepared from early youth in this way, Publius Scipio advanced toward winning distinction for self-control and nobility of character.

By spending perhaps sixty talents—for he had given up that much of his private means—he obtained an acknowledged reputation for generosity, accomplishing his purpose not so much by the amount of money as by the timing of the gift and the gracious way in which he bestowed the favor.

His self-control, however, he acquired at no cost at all; by abstaining from many and various pleasures he gained bodily health and vigor, and this stayed with him throughout his whole life, repaying him with many pleasures and fine rewards in return for the easy pleasures from which he had earlier abstained.

Chapter 29 Scipio Takes Up Hunting in Macedonia

There remained the part concerned with courage, which is almost the most important element in every constitution, and especially at Rome; so this too required the most serious training.

Here again fortune provided him with a fine aid toward the goal he had set himself.

The Macedonian kings had always taken great pains over hunting, and the Macedonians had set apart the places most suitable for keeping a supply of wild animals.

So it came about that these districts were carefully preserved throughout the whole war, just as they had been before, but because of the distractions of those four years they were never hunted at all. As a result, they were full of every kind of game.

When the war had been decided, Lucius, thinking hunting both the best training and the best recreation for young men, introduced Scipio to the royal huntsmen and handed over to him complete authority over the hunts.

Once he had taken this up, and fancying himself almost a king, he devoted all his time to it for as long as the army remained in Macedonia after the battle.

And because great enthusiasm for this pursuit sprang up in him—partly because he was in the full vigor of youth, and partly because his nature was so well suited to it, like that of a well-bred hound—his passion for hunting became enduring.

So when he returned to Rome and also took on Polybius' enthusiasm for this pursuit, while the rest of the young men were eager for court cases and morning calls, spending their time in the forum and trying by such means to recommend themselves to the crowd, Scipio, by occupying himself with hunting and always doing something splendid and memorable, won a finer reputation than the others.

For they could not gain praise unless they injured one of their fellow citizens; that is the usual effect of litigation.

But he, without causing pain to anyone at all, won a reputation for courage among the whole people, proving in deeds what others only claimed in words.

Accordingly, in a short time he outstripped his contemporaries to a degree no Roman is remembered ever to have done, even though in his pursuit of distinction he had taken a path opposite to that of all the others, so far as Roman custom and practice were concerned.

Chapter 30 A Digression on Scipio's Youth

I have spoken at greater length about the course Scipio chose in his youth because I believe such an account is pleasant for older readers and useful for the young, and especially because I want to win belief for what will be said about him in the following books, so that those who hear it may neither be perplexed when some of the things that happened to him later seem extraordinary, nor, by ignoring the causes from which each event came about, attribute to fortune achievements that were really the result of judgment and character—except for the very few things that ought to be credited only to fortune and chance.

Having carried this digression far enough, I now return again to the main thread of the narrative.

Chapter 31 The Rhodians Accept Grain from Eumenes

In other respects the Rhodians preserved the dignity of their constitution, but at this time they slipped a little, in my judgment. For they accepted from Eumenes two hundred and eighty thousand measures of grain, so that the money realized from it might be lent out, and the interest used to pay the salaries of the instructors and teachers of their sons.

If a private household had fallen into real difficulty, one might perhaps accept such help from friends, rather than see one's children grow up without education because of poverty. But if one were well provided for, one would endure anything sooner than go collecting from friends the money used to pay teachers.

And in proportion as a state ought to think on a larger scale than a private person, what is fitting ought to be guarded even more carefully in public matters than in private ones—especially by the Rhodians, given both the abundance of their public resources and their claim to dignity.

Chapter 32 Embassies to Rome Against Eumenes

In Asia, Prusias sent envoys to Rome together with Galatians to bring accusations against Eumenes.

Eumenes in turn sent his brother Attalus to answer the charges.

Ariarathes also sent to Rome a golden crown worth ten thousand gold pieces, together with envoys who were to explain to the Senate his meeting with Tiberius and, more generally, to urge them to state plainly whatever they required, since he was ready to do whatever the Romans commanded.

Chapter 33 Demetrius Courts Tiberius and Wins Recognition

When Menochares arrived at Antioch to see Demetrius and gave the king a full account of the meeting he had had with Tiberius and his party in Cappadocia, Demetrius decided that, of all the business before him, the most necessary was to cultivate those men as far as he could.

So he treated everything else as secondary and kept sending messages to them, first to Pamphylia and then again to Rhodes, undertaking to do whatever the Romans required, until he succeeded in being acknowledged by them as king.

For Tiberius was especially well disposed toward him, and so he contributed greatly to Demetrius's success in establishing himself and securing the royal power.

And Demetrius, seizing the opportunity just mentioned, at once sent envoys to Rome, bringing a crown, the man who had with his own hand killed Gnaeus, and along with them Isocrates the literary critic.

Book XXXII

The restoration of King Ariarathes V of Cappadocia on the acropolis of Pergamum. Book XXXII, 1, 12.

Chapter 1 Ariarathes' Crown and Attalus Cleared

Olympiad 155, year 1. Affairs in Italy.

At this time envoys arrived from Ariarathes, bringing a crown worth ten thousand gold pieces and setting forth the king's policy toward Roman affairs, [...], and they brought Tiberius and his colleagues forward as witnesses to these things.

When these men confirmed the statement, the Senate accepted the crown with great gratitude and sent back in return the most distinguished of the gifts that it was accustomed to bestow, namely a staff and an ivory chair.

The Senate therefore dismissed these envoys before the winter was over.

After them Attalus arrived, when the consuls had already entered office, and the Galatians whom Prusias had sent accused him.

After hearing them and many others from Asia, the Senate not only cleared Attalus of the slanders but even sent him away with increased marks of favor.

For in proportion as they had become estranged from the king and were at odds with Eumenes, to that same degree they cultivated Attalus and sought to raise him higher.

Chapter 2 Demetrius Sends Gnaeus's Murderer to Rome

Envoys also came from King Demetrius, led by Menochares, bringing to Rome a crown worth ten thousand gold pieces and at the same time bringing with them the man who had laid hands on Gnaeus.

The Senate was uncertain for a long time how it ought to deal with this business.

Even so, it accepted both the envoys and the crown; but it did not accept the men who were being brought in custody.

And yet Demetrius had sent not only Leptines, who had been the actual murderer of Gnaeus, but also Isocrates.

This man was one of those grammarians who gave public lectures; by nature he was talkative, theatrical, and full of self-importance, and he had already made himself offensive even to the Greeks,

since men like Alcaeus in his *Comparisons* had neatly mocked and ridiculed him.

But when he reached Syria and conceived contempt for everyone there, he was no longer content to discourse only on his own literary pursuits.

He even began to pronounce judgments on affairs of state, declaring that Gnaeus had suffered what was just, and that the other envoys too ought to have perished, so that not even the man who reported what had happened would have been left for the Romans, and they might thus cease from their arrogant commands and their unrestrained domination.

By throwing out such reckless talk, he fell into the misfortune already mentioned.

Chapter 3 Leptines and Isocrates Before the Senate

Something happened in connection with the men just mentioned that deserves to be remembered.

After Leptines had laid hands on Gnaeus, he at once went about openly in Laodicea, saying that he had acted justly and had done what he did with the approval of the gods.

When Demetrius took over affairs, Leptines approached the king and urged him not to be afraid because of the murder of Gnaeus, and not to devise any harsh measures against the Laodiceans.

For, he said, he himself would go to Rome and teach the Senate that he had done this deed with the approval of the gods.

So, because of his readiness and zeal, he was led along without chains and without any confinement.

Isocrates, on the other hand, once he was implicated in the affair, lost his mind completely. And when a collar and chain were put around his neck, he rarely even accepted food and in the end abandoned all care for his body.

Thus there arrived at Rome a marvelous spectacle, at which anyone looking would have admitted that, both in body and in soul, there is nothing more terrifying than a human being once he has turned savage.

For his appearance had become strangely dreadful and beastlike, since for more than a year he had had no dirt removed, no nails pared, and no hair cut.

And the expression and movement of his eyes created such an impression of his mind that anyone who saw him would sooner have approached any wild animal than that man.

Leptines, however, remained firm in his original purpose. He was ready to enter the Senate, and to all who met him he freely confessed the deed and even specified that nothing troublesome would happen to him from the Romans.

In the end his expectation proved accurate. For the Senate, as it seems to me, supposed that it would appear to the masses to be taking vengeance for the murder if it took custody of the guilty men and punished them, and therefore it very nearly refused to accept them, while keeping the charge itself untouched.

In this way it retained the power to make use of the accusations whenever it chose.

Accordingly it gave Demetrius this answer: that he would obtain the Senate's favor if he gave it full satisfaction in accordance with its sovereign authority.

Envoys also came from the Achaeans, led by Xenon and Telecles, on behalf of the accused men and especially for the sake of Polybius and Stratius.

For time had by now consumed almost all the others, including those worthy of remembrance.

The envoys came with instructions that were generally deferential, so as not to enter into rivalry with the Senate on any point.

But even after they entered and delivered the appropriate speeches, they accomplished nothing. On the contrary, the Senate decided to stand by its existing position.

Chapter 4 The Death of Lyciscus Reconciles the Aetolians

Greek Affairs.

Because Lyciscus the Aetolian was a disturber and a noisy agitator, but after he had been killed the Aetolians from that point onward were of one mind and in harmony, once a single man had been removed, so great, it seems, is the power resident in the natures of human beings, that not only camps and cities but even whole national organizations and the broadest divisions of the inhabited world may, through the virtue or vice of one man, at one time experience the greatest evils and at another the greatest goods.

And so Lyciscus, though he was an utterly evil man, nevertheless ended his life well, with the result that many quite reasonably reproach Fortune because she sometimes bestows upon the worst of men the prize of a good death, which ought to belong to the good.

Chapter 5 Charops Terrorizes Epirus

Conditions in Aetolia were in good order, since civil strife there had been extinguished after the death of Lyciscus.

And when Mnasippus of Coroneia also died, the situation in Boeotia improved; the same happened in Acarnania when Chremas was removed from the scene.

For it was almost as though some purification of Greece had taken place, when its accursed men passed out of the world of the living.

In that same year Charops of Epirus also happened to die at Brundisium.

But affairs in Epirus were still unsettled and troubled, as they had been in the preceding years, because of the brutality and lawlessness of Charops, from the time when the war with Perseus was brought to an end.

For after Lucius Anicius and Lucius Aemilius had condemned some of the leading men to death and carried others off to Rome, all those who had come under even the slightest suspicion, Charops then obtained full power to do whatever he wished, and there was no outrage he did not commit, some by his own hand and others through his friends, since he himself was still very young, and the worst and most reckless men had gathered around him because they could enrich themselves from other people's property.

And what served as a reserve force and gave weight to the belief that he was acting with some justification and with Roman approval was his previous association with the men already mentioned, and besides them with Myrton, an elderly man, and his son Nicanor, men otherwise moderate in character and thought to be friends of Rome, who for a long time had kept themselves far from every sort of injustice, but somehow at that moment gave themselves over to strengthening and sharing in the lawless acts of Charops.

After this man had openly murdered some in the marketplace, killed others in their own houses, and had still others assassinated in the countryside and on the roads by sending agents after them, and after he had seized the estates of all the dead, he introduced another scheme.

He posted up as exiles those whose property made them worth targeting, not only men but women as well.

By keeping this fear alive, he continually extorted money, dealing with the men himself and the women through his mother Philotis.

She too proved highly suited to the role, and was able to assist in acts of violence with more force than one would expect from a woman.

Chapter 6 Charops Seeks the Senate's Approval

After they had squeezed as much money as possible out of everyone, men and women alike, they nevertheless brought all those who had been proscribed before the people.

And most of the people in Phoenice, partly out of fear and partly because they had been won over by Charops and his circle, condemned all those who had been denounced, not to exile but to death, on the charge that their sympathies were alien to Rome.

So all these people fled, while Charops set out for Rome, taking money with him and bringing along Myrton and his associates, because he wanted to have his lawlessness sealed with the Senate's approval.

At that moment there appeared both a splendid example of Roman policy and a splendid sight for all the Greeks who were staying there, especially for those who had been summoned.

For Marcus, who was chief priest and was enrolled first in the Senate, and Lucius, the conqueror of Perseus, who possessed the greatest credit and influence, when they learned what Charops had done in Epirus, forbade Charops to enter their houses.

When this became widely known, all the visiting Greeks were overjoyed, applauding the Romans' hatred of wickedness.

After this, when Charops entered the Senate, it did not agree to what he was asking and did not wish to give a definite reply, but said that it would give instructions to the envoys who were being sent out to examine what had happened.

But Charops, after withdrawing, concealed that answer, and instead wrote home a report adapted to his own interests, saying that the Romans approved what he was doing.

Chapter 7 The Delian Exiles Appeal to the Achaeans

Olympiad 155, year 2. Affairs in Italy.

Envoys came from the Athenians [...], and from the Achaeans came Thearidas and Stephanus on behalf of the Delians.

For after the Romans had given the Delians the answer that, once Delos had been granted to the Athenians, they themselves must withdraw from the island, though they might carry away their possessions, the Delians moved to Achaea, obtained citizenship there, and wished to obtain justice from the Athenians under the agreement between the Athenians and the Achaeans.

But since the Athenians claimed that this jurisdiction did not apply to them, the Delians asked the Achaeans for the right of reprisal against the Athenians.

It was on this matter that they had come on embassy at that time, and they received the answer that the arrangements lawfully made by the Achaeans concerning the Delians were to remain valid.

Chapter 8 Eulogy of King Eumenes

King Eumenes was crippled in bodily strength, but by the brilliance of his spirit he still held out, a man who in most respects was second to none of the kings of his own age, and in the greatest and noblest matters was greater and more distinguished than they were.

For in the first place, when he inherited from his father a kingdom narrowed down to a few small and meager towns, he made his own power a match for the greatest dynasties of his age, relying not chiefly on fortune or on sudden reversals, but on intelligence, hard work, and his own action.

Second, he showed the greatest eagerness for honor, and benefited more Greek cities than any of the kings of his time, while also attaching more private individuals personally to himself.

Third, although he had three brothers [...] both in age and in action, he kept all of them obedient to him, serving as his supporters and preserving the dignity of the kingship.

Such a thing one would rarely find to have happened.

Chapter 9 Fannius Sent to Inspect the Delmatae

Olympiad 155, year 3. I. Affairs in Italy.

Because the Issaeans had repeatedly sent embassies to Rome and made it clear that the Delmatae were injuring their territory and the cities allied with them, namely Epetium and Tragurium, and because the Daorsi were making the same complaint, the Senate sent envoys under Gaius Fannius to inspect conditions in Illyria, and especially those concerning the Delmatae.

While Pleuratus was alive, these people had obeyed him; but after his death, when Gentius succeeded to the kingship, they broke away from him, made war on their neighbors, and subdued the cities next to them, some of which even paid them tribute. This tribute consisted of livestock and grain.

So Fannius and his party set out on this mission.

Chapter 10 Rival Envoys Slander Ariarathes at Rome

King Ariarathes arrived in Rome while it was still summer.

Then, after Sextus Julius and Lucius Aurelius had entered office as consuls, he conducted private interviews, shaping both his presentation and his demeanor to fit the situation before him.

Envoys from Demetrius were also present, headed by Miltiades, prepared for either line of argument; for they were ready both to defend themselves against Ariarathes and, out of hostility, to accuse him.

Orophernes too had sent envoys, headed by Timotheus and Diogenes, bringing a crown for Rome and intending to renew friendship and alliance, but above all to join in the case against Ariarathes, defending some points and attacking others.

In these private interviews, however, the party of Diogenes and Miltiades made the stronger impression, since they were several men set against one, and because in the rest of their presentation they had the advantage of seeming to represent successful men against one who had suffered a reverse.

In the explanation of the facts too they were far superior.

For they had the audacity to say absolutely anything on any subject, paying no regard to the truth, while what they said could not be challenged because there was no one present to answer them.

So, with falsehood winning the day almost without a struggle, they thought the affair was proceeding exactly as they wished.

Chapter 11 Orophernes' Ruin and the Oropus Affair

Many men, through their craving for ever more and their overbearing spirit, have been ensnared by wealth; Orophernes, king of Cappadocia, was caught in this trap, ruined, and driven from his kingdom.

But after summarizing his return, I shall bring the narrative back to the usual order that I follow throughout this work.

For just now I passed over events in Greece and anticipated the events in Asia, namely those in Cappadocia, because Ariarathes' departure from Italy and his return to take up affairs there did not admit of any reasonable division.

Therefore I return to describe what happened in Greece at the same time.

Among these events there occurred a peculiar and extraordinary affair connected with the city of the Oropians.

I shall summarize the whole business by going back over some points and anticipating others, so that, since the matter is not especially notable in itself, I may not make the narrative trivial and obscure by reporting it piecemeal in separate stretches of time.

For when even the whole story can scarcely seem worth close attention to the hearer, who among those eager to learn would pay attention to disconnected parts told at intervals?

For the most part, when they are successful, people are generally of one mind; but in failure, becoming irritated by events, they turn touchy and hard to deal with even toward their friends.

This is what happened in the case of Orophernes too: when events turned against him, he and Theotimus began blaming one another. [...]

Polybius says in Book 32 that after ruling Cappadocia for only a short time and casting aside the customs of his fathers, Orophernes introduced a life of revelry and theatrical extravagance.

Chapter 12 Attalus Restores Ariarathes to His Kingdom

Attalus, the brother of Eumenes, when he took power, first gave proof of his own purpose and policy by restoring Ariarathes to his kingdom.

Chapter 13 Rome Resolves on War with the Delmatae

Olympiad 155, year 4. I. Affairs in Italy.

When Gaius Fannius and his colleagues returned from Illyria and reported that the Delmatae were so far from making any amends for the charges brought against them by those who said they were being continually wronged, that they would not even grant them a hearing at all, declaring that they had nothing in common with the Romans; and further explained that no lodging or provisions had been given them, and that the Delmatae had even taken away by force the horses they had obtained from another city; and that they had been ready to come to blows, had they not yielded to the circumstances and made their departure with great restraint and calm; when the Senate heard this report, it was seriously angered by the disobedience and rudeness of the Delmatae, but above all it judged the moment favorable for making war on them, for several reasons.

For these parts of Illyria, the regions stretching toward the Adriatic, had been left entirely unvisited by the Romans ever since they drove out Demetrius of Pharos; and besides, they did not want the people of Italy to grow soft in any way through a long peace.

For this was then the twelfth year since the war with Perseus and the settlement in Macedonia. Therefore they resolved to begin a war against the people just mentioned, in order both, as it were, to renew the drive and eagerness of their own people, and by striking the Illyrians with fear to force them to obey Roman commands.

These, then, were the reasons why the Romans went to war with the Delmatae; but to outsiders they presented the war as one undertaken because of the outrage committed against their envoys.

Chapter 14 Epirote Envoys Before the Senate

At this time envoys arrived from Epirus, both from those who held Phoenice and from those who had been expelled, and they pleaded their case in person.

The Senate replied that it would give instructions on these matters to the envoys being sent to Illyria with Gaius Marcius.

Chapter 15 Prusias Plunders Sanctuaries Around Pergamum

After defeating Attalus, Prusias advanced against Pergamum, prepared a lavish sacrifice, and offered it at the sanctuary of Asclepius.

After sacrificing oxen and obtaining favorable omens, he then returned to camp.

But on the next day he drew up his army against the Nikephorium, destroyed all the temples and sacred precincts of the gods, and plundered the statues and even the stone images.

At last he even carried off the statue of Asclepius itself, an exceptional work by Phyromachus, and took it away for himself, though the day before he had poured libations before it, sacrificed oxen to it, and prayed to it, asking, as one would expect, that the god be gracious and favorable to him in every way.

I have said elsewhere, when speaking of Philip, that such states of mind are a kind of madness.

For to sacrifice at one and the same time and try by such acts to appease the divine power, bowing down and extravagantly flattering the sacrificial tables and altars—as Prusias used to do, dropping to his knees and acting in a soft, unmanly way— and at the same time to ravage those same holy things and, by destroying them, display one's insolence toward the gods—how could anyone fail to call this the work of a frenzied anger and a mind driven out of all reason?

And that is exactly what happened with Prusias then. Having accomplished nothing brave in his assaults, but having behaved basely and without courage in his dealings both with gods and with men, he moved his army on to Elaea.

And after testing Elaea and making some attacks, but being unable to achieve anything because Sosander, the king's companion, had entered the city with soldiers and blocked his attempts, he marched off to Thyatira.

On the way back he violently plundered the sanctuary of Artemis at the Sacred Village.

In the same way, near Temnus, he not only plundered the precinct of Apollo Cynneius, but also destroyed it with fire.

After doing this he returned home, having made war not only on men but on the gods as well.

And on the return journey Prusias' infantry also suffered terribly from famine and dysentery, so that the vengeance that met him at once for these acts seemed to have been sent by heaven. [...]

Chapter 16 Attalus Sends Athenaeus to the Senate

After his defeat by Prusias, Attalus chose his brother Athenaeus and sent him with Publius and his party to explain to the Senate what had happened.

For when Andronicus had come to Rome and reported the enemy's first advance, the men there paid no attention, but suspected that Attalus, wishing to be the one to attack Prusias himself, was laying the groundwork for excuses and trying to prejudice opinion against him in advance.

And when Nicomedes and Antiphilus and the other envoys sent by Prusias insisted that none of this was true, the stories told about Prusias were believed even less.

But after some time, when the matter became clearer, the Senate, being uncertain because of the conflicting reports, sent Lucius Apuleius and Gaius Petronius as envoys to inspect how matters stood between the kings just mentioned.

Book XXXIII

The Greek proverb of the goat-milker and the sieve, symbolizing futile political labor. Book XXXIII, 21.

Chapter 1 War Against Attalus Prevented

Olympiad 156, year 1. Affairs in Italy.

While it was still winter, the Senate heard the report of Publius Lentulus and his colleagues on the matter concerning Prusias, since they had only recently arrived from Asia; and it also summoned Athenaeus, the brother of King Attalus.

The case did not require many words. The Senate immediately appointed envoys—Gaius Claudius Cento, Lucius Hortensius, and Gaius Arunculeius—and sent them along with Athenaeus, instructing them to prevent Prusias from making war on Attalus.

Envoys from the Achaeans also arrived at Rome on behalf of the detained men, led by Xenon of Aegium and Telecles of Aegira.

After these men had spoken in the Senate and the motion had been put before the house, the senators came very close to releasing the accused men.

The man responsible for preventing the release from being carried was Aulus Postumius, who was serving as praetor and presiding over the decision.

For there were three proposals: one urged that the men be released, another urged the opposite, and a third favored granting release but delaying it for the present. Although those who supported release were the most numerous, Postumius set one proposal aside and put the other two in broad terms, asking who thought the detained men should be released and who thought the opposite.

As a result, those who had favored postponement for the present joined those who said the men should not be released, and they became more numerous than the supporters of release. That was the outcome in this matter.

Chapter 3 Release of Achaeans Refused

When the ambassadors returned from Rome to Achaea and made it clear that matters had come very close to ending in the return of all the detained men, most people became hopeful and elated, and at once sent Telecles and Anaxidamus of Megalopolis again. That was the state of affairs in the Peloponnese.

Chapter 4 Character of Aristocrates

Affairs of Rhodes.

Aristocrates, the Rhodian general, had a commanding and impressive appearance.

Because of this, the Rhodians supposed, judging from every indication, that they had in him a thoroughly reliable leader and protector for the war.

But they were disappointed in their hopes. For when he came to practical action, like counterfeit coin put into the fire, he proved to be something quite different. And this became clear in his actual deeds.

Chapter 5 Suicide of Archias

[...] to offer him five hundred talents if he would surrender Cyprus, and to make it clear that other profitable and honorable rewards would also follow from Demetrius if he rendered this service.

When Ptolemy received notice that Archias was present—

Archias, wishing to betray Cyprus to Demetrius, was detected and brought up for trial; but he hanged himself with one of the ropes from the palace awnings.

For indeed, as the proverb says, empty men make empty calculations under the sway of their desires.

So it was with him: imagining that he would gain five hundred talents, he lost both the money he already had and his life as well.

Chapter 6 The Prienians Refuse to Give Orophernes' Funds to Ariarathes

About this same time the people of Priene also fell into an unexpected disaster.

When Orophernes had seized the throne, they had received from him a deposit of four hundred talents. In the years that followed, Ariarathes [...], when he recovered the kingdom, demanded the money from them.

In my opinion the Prienians took the right stand, saying that while Orophernes was still alive they would hand over the money to no one except the man who had deposited it.

Ariarathes, however, seemed to many people to be going beyond what was proper in claiming a deposit that belonged to someone else.

Even so, up to that point one might perhaps excuse him for making the attempt, on the assumption that the money belonged to the kingdom he had recovered. But to push his anger and ambition still further seemed in no way reasonable.

At the time now in question he sent forces that plundered the territory of the Prienians, with Attalus assisting and provoking him because of his own private quarrel with them.

Many people and many herds were lost, and there were even killings near the city itself. Since the Prienians were unable to defend themselves, they first sent envoys to the Rhodians and afterward appealed to the Romans.

But the Romans paid no attention to what they said. So the Prienians, who had placed great hopes in the size of the sum, found themselves at the mercy of their enemies.

For they returned the deposit to Orophernes, yet because of that same deposit they suffered serious unjust injuries at the hands of King Ariarathes.

Chapter 7 The Senate Sends Ten Envoys to Prusias

When Hortensius and Arunculeius had returned from Pergamum and explained both Prusias' contempt for the Senate's instructions and the further fact that, in violation of his sworn agreements, after shutting them up in Pergamum along with Attalus and his party, he had shown every kind of violence and lawlessness, the Senate, angered and deeply disturbed by what had happened, appointed from its own body ten envoys, headed by Lucius Anicius, Gaius Fannius, and Quintus Fabius Maximus, and sent them out at once, instructing them to put an end to the war and compel Prusias to make restitution to Attalus for the wrongs he had committed in the war.

Chapter 8 Massalia Appeals to Rome for Help

At the same time envoys also arrived from Massalia.

They had long been suffering at the hands of the Ligurians, and at that time they were completely blockaded; in addition, the cities of Antipolis and Nicaea were under siege. So they sent envoys to Rome to explain what was happening and to ask for help.

When these envoys appeared before the Senate, the council decided to send legates who would both see the situation for themselves and also try by negotiation to correct the ignorance of the barbarians.

Chapter 9 The Senate Appoints Commissioners to Stop the War

When the people of Massalia sent envoys to Rome to report that they were being mistreated by the Ligurians, the Romans immediately appointed Flaminius, Popilius Laenas, and Lucius Popius as commissioners.

Sailing with the Massaliots, they put in at the territory of the Oxybii, at the town of Aegitna.

But the Ligurians had heard beforehand that they had come to order them to raise the siege, so they attacked while the rest were still bringing their ships to shore and prevented them from landing.

When they found Flaminius already ashore and his baggage unloaded, they first ordered him to leave their country; when he refused to obey, they began plundering his equipment.

When his attendants and freedmen tried to defend the property and stop them, the Ligurians used force and laid hands on them.

At that moment Flaminius too came to help his own people, and they wounded him, killed two of his servants, and drove the rest back to the ship, so that Flaminius barely escaped danger by cutting loose the stern-ropes and anchors.

He was taken to Massalia and treated there with every care.

When the Senate learned what had happened, it immediately sent one of the consuls, Quintus Opimius, with a force to make war on the Oxybii and the Deciatae.

Chapter 10 The Ligurians Resist Roman Intervention

Quintus gathered his forces at the city of Placentia and, marching through the Apennines, came into the territory of the Oxybii.

After pitching camp beside the river Apros, he waited for the enemy, having learned that they were assembling and eager to fight.

Then he brought his army up to Aegitna, where the envoys had suffered this outrage, took the town by storm, reduced the inhabitants to slavery, and sent the leaders responsible for the violence to Rome in chains.

After accomplishing this, he advanced to meet the enemy.

The Oxybii, thinking that their crime against the envoys was beyond pardon, were seized by a kind of irrational fury and reckless impulse; before the Deciatae could join them, they gathered about four thousand men and charged the Romans.

Quintus, seeing their rush and the boldness of the barbarians, was struck by their recklessness; but since he saw that the enemy were acting without judgment, he was confident, being both experienced in war and exceptionally sharp by nature.

So he drew out his army, spoke the words suited to the moment, and advanced at a steady walk against the enemy.

Launching a vigorous attack, he quickly defeated those drawn up against him, killed many of them, and forced the rest into headlong flight.

Meanwhile the Deciatae had assembled and arrived, intending to share the same dangers as the Oxybii.

But because they came too late for the battle, they took in the fugitives and shortly afterward attacked the Romans with great dash and eagerness.

After they too were defeated in battle, they all at once surrendered themselves and their city to Roman authority.

Having thus gained control of these tribes, Quintus immediately assigned as much of their land as he could to the Massaliots, and for the future he compelled the Ligurians to give hostages to the Massaliots at fixed intervals.

He then disarmed those who had opposed him and, distributing his army among their towns, established winter quarters there.

So this war had both a swift beginning and a swift end.

Chapter 11 Ptolemy the Younger Accuses His Brother at Rome

At the very time when the Senate sent Opimius against the war with the Oxybii, Ptolemy the Younger arrived in Rome.

He appeared before the Senate and accused his brother, charging him with responsibility for the plot against his life.

At the same time he displayed the scars of his wounds before their eyes, and by adding the rest of his tale in a manner to match them, he appealed to the pity of his audience.

Envoys also arrived from the elder brother, headed by Neolaidas and Andromachus, to answer the accusations made by the younger Ptolemy.

But the Senate, already prejudiced by the slanders of the younger brother, was not even willing to listen to their defense; instead, it ordered them to leave Rome at once.

For the younger Ptolemy it appointed five envoys, including Gnaeus Merula and Lucius Thermus, and gave each envoy a quinquereme; these men were instructed to restore Ptolemy to Cyprus.

And to the allies in Greece and Asia they wrote that they were permitted to assist Ptolemy in his return.

Chapter 12 Roman Commissioners Visit Attalus and Prusias

In Asia, Attalus was still, throughout the winter, gathering large forces, since Ariarathes and Mithridates had sent him cavalry and infantry in accordance with their alliance, under the command

of Demetrius son of Ariarathes. While he was engaged in these preparations, the ten envoys arrived from Rome, met him near Cadi, discussed the situation with him, and then set out for Prusias.

When they met Prusias, they conveyed the Senate's instructions to him in very severe terms.

Prusias accepted some of the orders, but objected to most of them.

So the Romans took offense at him, renounced both friendship and alliance with him, and all left him and went back again to Attalus.

Prusias then changed his mind and followed after them for some distance, pleading earnestly; but when he accomplished nothing, he withdrew in helpless uncertainty.

The Romans instructed Attalus to take up position on the frontier of his own territory with his forces, not to begin the war himself, but to secure the safety of his cities and villages.

They then divided themselves into groups: some sailed off in haste to report Prusias' disobedience to the Senate, some departed for Ionia, and others for the Hellespont and the regions around Byzantium, all acting with one and the same purpose, namely, to detach people from friendship and alliance with Prusias, and to win them over to Attalus and support him as far as possible.

Chapter 13 Roman Envoys Make Peace Between Prusias and Attalus

At the same time Athenaeus sailed in with eighty decked warships.

Five of these were Rhodian quadriremes that had been sent for the Cretan war, twenty belonged to Cyzicus, twenty-seven were with Attalus, and the rest came from the other allies.

He sailed to the Hellespont and, after making contact with the cities aligned with Prusias, repeatedly put troops ashore and devastated the countryside.

When the Senate had heard the envoys who had returned from Prusias, it sent out three more commissioners: Appius Claudius, Lucius Oppius, and Aulus Postumius.

When these men reached Asia, they brought the war to an end by inducing both kings to agree to the following terms:

Prusias was to hand over twenty decked ships to Attalus at once and to pay five hundred talents over twenty years.

Both kings were to keep the territory each had held before entering the war.

Prusias was also to make good the damage done in the territory of the Methymnaeans, Aegaeans, Cymaeans, and Heracleots, by paying one hundred talents to the communities just named.

After the treaty had been written out on these terms, the forces under Attalus, both fleet and army, withdrew home.

Such was the course taken by events in the dispute between Attalus and Prusias, and [...]

Chapter 14 Another Embassy from Achaea

C. Olympiad 156, year 3. Affairs in Italy.

At this time in Rome, when envoys from Achaea entered the Senate on behalf of the detained men, the Senate decided to remain with its existing policy.

Chapter 15 War Between Rhodes and Crete

Heracleides arrived in Rome while summer was still at its height, bringing Laodice and Alexander.

During his stay he lingered there, using a mixture of theatrical display and intrigue while he worked to influence the Senate.

Astymedes of Rhodes, who had been appointed both envoy and admiral, then appeared before the Senate and spoke about the war against the Cretans.

The Senate listened attentively and immediately sent envoys under Quintus to settle the war.

Chapter 16 Crete and Rhodes Ask the Achaeans for Help

At this time the Cretans sent envoys to the Achaeans to ask for assistance, headed by Antiphatas son of Telemnastus, a man of Gortyn; and in the same way the Rhodians sent envoys headed by Theophanes.

When the Achaean assembly met at Corinth and the envoys from both sides spoke in support of receiving aid, most people leaned more toward the Rhodians, out of respect both for the standing of their city and for the general character of its constitution and leading men.

Seeing this, Antiphatas wanted to come forward again; and when the general gave permission, he spoke with more weight and seriousness than one would expect from a Cretan.

For the young man was not at all a typical Cretan, but had avoided the shameless habits associated with Crete.

As a result, the Achaeans welcomed his frank speech, and even more because his father Telemnastus had come with five hundred Cretans and had fought gallantly on their side in the war against Nabis.

Even so, after hearing him, the majority were still inclined to help the Rhodians, until Callicrates of Leontium stood up and said that they ought neither to go to war with anyone without Roman approval

nor to send help to anyone against anyone else.

Because of this, the policy of leaving matters as they stood carried the day.

Chapter 17 Unreasonable Actions of the Rhodians

Because the Rhodians were distressed by the course of events, they fell into irrational impulses and schemes, coming into much the same frame of mind as people afflicted with chronic illness.

For such people often, when they follow every proper rule of treatment and obey the doctors yet still cannot make any progress toward recovery, grow despondent at what is happening to them. Some turn to sacrificers and seers; others try every kind of charm and amulet.

The same thing was happening among the Rhodians. Since everything kept turning out contrary to expectation, they were forced to listen to every proposal and to treat every hope as something real and worth waiting for.

And this was not unnatural. When nothing that accords with reason succeeds, yet one must keep acting without pause, one is compelled to test even courses that lie outside reason.

So the Rhodians, once they had fallen into such a state, did some of the things people do in that condition: among other irrational acts, they chose again as magistrate the very man whom they had previously rejected.

Chapter 18 Alexander Balas

D. Olympiad 156, year 4. I. Affairs in Italy.

When various embassies had arrived in Rome, the Senate first called in Attalus, son of King Eumenes.

For he had come to Rome at this time while still a boy, both to be introduced to the Senate and to renew his father's friendships and ties of hospitality.

He was kindly received both by the Senate and by his father's friends, obtained the answers he wanted and honors suited to his age, and after a few days returned home, being welcomed warmly and generously by all the Greek cities through which he passed.

Demetrius too arrived at the same time, but after receiving only a moderate welcome, appropriate enough for a boy, he again departed for home.

Heracleides, however, who had spent a long time in Rome, appeared before the Senate, bringing Laodice and Alexander with him.

The young man first made a brief and modest speech and asked the Romans to remember their friendship and alliance with his father Antiochus, and above all to help him secure the kingship.

If not, then at least to permit his return and not hinder those who wished to help him recover his ancestral rule.

Then Heracleides took up the speech, spoke at length in praise of Antiochus and in accusation of Demetrius, and came to this point: that in justice they ought to permit the return of the young man and Laodice, since they were, by birth, the offspring of King Antiochus.

None of this pleased the more sober-minded men; they saw the whole thing as a staged performance and openly loathed Heracleides.

But the majority, won over by Heracleides' trickery, were carried into drafting a decree like this:

"Alexander and Laodice, children of a king who was our friend and ally, appeared before the Senate and addressed it.

The Senate granted them permission to proceed to their ancestral kingdom, and it was resolved to assist them, as they requested."

Heracleides, taking advantage of this opening, at once began hiring mercenaries and summoning prominent men to join him [...]; and when he arrived at Ephesus, he occupied himself with preparations for the enterprise he had in view.

Chapter 19 Demetrius's Intemperance

He also says in the thirty-third book that Demetrius—the man who escaped from his hostage life at Rome and became king of Syria—was a heavy drinker and spent most of the day drunk.

Chapter 20 The Multitude Will Act on its Feelings

E. Fragments of Uncertain Position.

Once the masses are seized by an extreme impulse to love or hate certain people, any pretext is enough to help them carry out their purpose.

Chapter 21 The Goat-Milker and the Sieve

But I am afraid that I may stumble into the familiar proverb without noticing it: which is the greater fool, the man milking a he-goat or the man holding out a sieve? For by arguing so precisely against something everyone already admits is false, and by adding still more discussion, I too seem to be doing much the same thing.

So it is completely pointless to speak about such matters, unless someone wants to write down dreams and study dreams while fully awake.

Book XXXIV

Harpooning swordfish in the treacherous currents of the Strait of Messina. Book XXXIV, 3.

Chapter 1 Polybius on Life beneath the Equator

Those historians who, in the course of a general history, set out separately the geography of the continents did as Ephorus and Polybius did.

Polybius says that, on Greek matters, Eudoxus gave a good account, but Ephorus the best account of city foundations, kinships, migrations, and founders.

“But we,” he says, “will describe the world as it now is, dealing with the position of places and their distances from one another.”

For that is the subject most properly belonging to geography.

And yet, Polybius, by introducing sweeping judgments about distances not only in lands outside Greece but also within Greece itself [...] and you make yourself answerable in some cases to Posidonius, in others to Artemidorus, and in others to many more besides.

Polybius the historian also composed a book entitled *On the Habitation under the Equator*. This region lies in the middle of the torrid zone.

He says that these places are inhabited and that their climate is more temperate than that of the regions lying at the edges of the torrid zone. Some of his evidence comes from reports by men who had observed those inhabited regions and confirmed what was seen there; other arguments he draws by reasoning from the natural motion of the sun.

For the sun lingers a long time around the tropic circles, both as it approaches them and as it moves away, so that to perception it remains near the tropics for almost forty days.

For this reason, since it lingers over the regions lying beneath the tropics, those regions must be scorched and become uninhabitable because of the intensity of the heat.

But from the equatorial circle its departure is rapid. It is therefore reasonable that the regions lying under the equator should have a milder climate, since the sun does not linger at the point overhead but quickly moves away from it.

For all who live between the tropic circles stand in the same relation to the sun’s passage overhead; but it remains longer over those who live near the tropics.

For that reason, the regions beneath the equator, though they lie in the middle of the torrid zone, are in fact more temperate than the settlements near the outer edges of that zone, which lie under the

tropic circles. Polybius makes six zones in all, two beneath the arctic circles, two between those and the tropics, and two between those and the equator.

But Polybius is not right in this, when he marks out zones by the arctic circles, making two under them and two between them and the tropics.

If, as Eratosthenes says, the region beneath the equator is temperate—as Polybius agrees, adding also that it is the highest region, and therefore receives abundant rainfall because the northern clouds driven by the etesian winds strike the heights there—then it would be much better to make this a narrow third temperate zone than to introduce zones beneath the tropics.

Posidonius objects to Polybius on the ground that he says the equatorial region is the highest.

And after him there was great disagreement about the number of the zones. Some made them six, as Polybius and Posidonius did, by dividing the torrid zone into two.

Chapter 2 Polybius Interprets the Wanderings of Odysseus

To build an empty tale of marvels on no basis of truth at all is not Homer's way.

For, as one would expect, falsehood is more persuasive when it includes some elements of truth.

That is what Polybius also says when he undertakes to explain the wanderings of Odysseus.

And Polybius is right in the way he interprets those wanderings.

He says that Aeolus, because he foretold the times for sailing out in the regions of the strait—where the currents run in both directions and departure is difficult because of the tides—came to be called the keeper of the winds and was thought of as a king, just as Danaus, who pointed out the reservoirs in Argos, and Atreus, who recognized the sun's course as opposite to that of the heavens, came to be represented as seers and priest-kings.

So too the priests of the Egyptians, the Chaldaeans, and the Magi, because they surpassed other men in wisdom, received authority and honor among earlier generations.

In the same way each of the gods is honored as the discoverer of some useful thing.

Starting from this principle, Polybius does not allow Aeolus to be treated as a merely mythical figure, nor Odysseus' entire wandering as pure fiction. Rather, he says that a small amount of myth has been added, just as it has been added to the story of the Trojan War, but that the main setting of the whole story is Sicily, both in the poet and in the other writers who describe the local features of Italy and Sicily.

Nor does he approve Eratosthenes' remark that one will discover where Odysseus wandered when one finds the cobbler who stitched up the bag of the winds.

He also says that Homer's words fit what happens at Scyllaeum and the hunting of the great fish there, where Scylla herself is described as raging around the rock, fishing for dolphins and sea-dogs and whatever larger creature she may catch.

For tuna, swimming in schools along the coast of Italy, whenever they are driven off course and prevented from reaching Sicily, fall in with larger animals such as dolphins, sharks, and other sea-creatures, and from hunting them the galeotes grow fat—fish which, he says, are also called swordfish and sea-dogs.

The same thing happens during the flooding of the Nile and of other waters, just as it does in a fire when woodland is burning: the animals gather together in flight from fire or flood and become prey for the stronger creatures.

Chapter 3 Swordfish Hunting at Scyllaeum

After saying this, he describes the hunting of the galeotes, which takes place around Scyllaeum.

A single lookout is stationed over many small two-oared boats lying in wait, with two men in each boat.

One man rows, while the other stands on the prow holding a spear whenever the lookout signals the appearance of a swordfish, for the creature travels with a third of its body above the water.

When the boat comes alongside, the spearman strikes at close range and then pulls the shaft back out of the body, leaving only the harpoon-head in the fish.

For the point is barbed and is deliberately fitted loosely to the shaft, and a long line is attached to it. They let this line run with the wounded fish until it is exhausted from its struggling and attempts to escape.

Then they drag it ashore or lift it into the boat, if its body is not too large.

And even if the shaft falls into the sea, it is not lost. It is made from oak and fir together, so that when the oak end sinks by its weight, the rest remains afloat and easy to recover.

Sometimes it even happens that the rower is wounded straight through the little boat because of the great size of the fish's sword and the boar-like violence of the creature in the hunt.

From such facts, he says, one may infer that Homer placed Odysseus' wandering around Sicily, because he connected Scylla with this kind of fishing, which is especially characteristic of Scyllaeum, and because what is said about Charybdis resembles the actual behavior of the strait.

But the line "for three times she spews it up" instead of "twice" is either a copyist's error or a geographical mistake.

And Meninx too agrees with what is said about the Lotus-Eaters.

Chapter 4 Homer's Poetry and the Voyage of Odysseus

If some point does not agree with reality, one should explain it by changes over time, by ignorance, or by poetic license, which is composed of history, vivid presentation, and myth.

The aim of history is truth, as when in the Catalogue of Ships the poet mentions the features proper to each place, calling one city rocky, another farthest out, another rich in doves, and another beside the sea.

The aim of vivid presentation is immediacy, as when he introduces men fighting; the aim of myth is pleasure and wonder.

But to invent everything is neither convincing nor Homeric. For everyone regards his poetry as a work of thought, not as Eratosthenes says when he tells us not to judge poems by their meaning or to look for history in them.

It is more plausible to take the line, "From there for nine days I was carried by destructive winds," to refer to a short distance—for destructive winds do not keep a straight course—than to send Odysseus out into the outer ocean as though steady fair winds were blowing all the while.

And if, he says, we reckon the distance from Malea to the Pillars as 22,500 stades, and suppose that this was covered at an even rate in nine days, the voyage would come to 2,500 stades each day.

Who, then, has ever recorded that someone sailed from Lycia or Rhodes to Alexandria—a distance of 4,000 stades—and arrived on the second day?

And to those who ask how Odysseus could have come to Sicily three times and yet never once sailed through the strait, he replies that later sailors also all avoided that passage. Such is his argument.

Chapter 5 Polybius Attacks Pytheas' Tales

Quoted by Strabo, Geography.

When Polybius describes Europe, he says that he will pass over the ancient writers and instead examine those who criticize them: Dicaearchus, Eratosthenes, the most recent author to write on geography, and Pytheas, by whom, he says, many have been misled, since he claimed to have gone over the whole of Britain on foot and gave the island a perimeter of more than forty thousand stades, and also told stories about Thule and those regions where there was no longer land by itself, nor sea, nor air, but some compound made from all of them, like a sea-lung, in which, he says, earth and sea and everything together are suspended, and that this serves as a sort of bond holding the whole together, being neither passable on foot nor navigable by ship.

He says that he saw for himself the thing that resembled a sea-lung, but that he reports the rest from hearsay. Such, then, are the tales of Pytheas, including his further claim that after returning from there he traveled all along the ocean-facing coast of Europe from Gades to the Tanais.

Polybius says that even this is incredible: how could a private man, and a poor man besides, have crossed such vast distances by sea and by land?

And yet Eratosthenes, though he raised the question whether these stories should be believed, nevertheless accepted what Pytheas said about Britain and the regions around Gades and Iberia.

He says it would be far better to believe the Messenian than this man. Euhemerus, after all, says only that he sailed to one country, Panchaea; but Pytheas claims that he personally inspected the whole northern coast of Europe as far as the ends of the world, something one would not believe even if Hermes himself said it.

Yet Eratosthenes calls Euhemerus a Bergaean, and still believes Pytheas, although Dicaearchus did not believe him either.

As for the phrase, "although Dicaearchus did not believe him," that is ridiculous, as though Dicaearchus ought to be used as the standard, though Polybius himself brings forward so many refutations against him.

The ignorance of Eratosthenes about the western and northern parts of Europe has already been mentioned.

But Eratosthenes and Dicaearchus may be excused, since they had not seen those regions. But who could excuse Polybius and Posidonius?

And yet Polybius is precisely the man who calls such pronouncements mere popular guesswork, the sort people make about distances in these regions and in many others, but not even in [...]

Chapter 6 Polybius Corrects Dicaearchus on Distances

Quoted by Strabo, Geography.

[...] the very matters in which he refutes those men is he free of them. For example, Dicaearchus said that from the Peloponnese to the Pillars there were ten thousand stades, and that the distance from the Peloponnese to the head of the Adriatic was greater than this; and since he gave the distance from the Peloponnese to the strait as three thousand, the remainder from the strait to the Pillars came to seven thousand, Polybius says that he will let the three thousand stand, whether it is correctly reckoned or not, but that the seven thousand works in neither way, neither for someone measuring along the coast nor for someone measuring straight through the open sea.

For the coastline, he says, most closely resembles an obtuse angle whose two ends rest on the strait and on the Pillars, with Narbo as its apex, so that a triangle is formed, having as its base the straight course through the open sea, and as its sides the two lines that form the angle just mentioned.

One of these, from the strait to Narbo, is more than eleven thousand two hundred stades; the other, the remaining side, is a little less than eight thousand.

And indeed, it is generally agreed that the greatest distance from Europe to Libya across the Tyrrhenian Sea is no more than three thousand stades; across the Sardinian Sea the distance is reduced.

But let that too, he says, be taken as three thousand, and in addition let two thousand stades be assumed for the depth of the gulf near Narbo, as though it were a perpendicular from the apex to the base of the obtuse-angled triangle.

It is therefore clear, he says, from schoolboy geometry that the entire coastal route from the strait to the Pillars exceeds the straight course across the open sea by roughly five hundred stades.

And when the three thousand stades from the Peloponnese to the strait are added, the total number of stades, even by the straight route itself, will be more than double what Dicaearchus said.

And, he says, the distance to the recess at the head of the Adriatic will have to be set still greater than this, according to Dicaearchus' own account.

But, dear Polybius, one might say, just as experience makes the refutation of that falsehood plain enough from the very things you yourself have said, namely, seven hundred stades from the Peloponnese to Leucas, then the same distance from there to Corcyra, and again the same distance from there to the Ceraunian Mountains, and then to the right from the Ceraunians to Iapydia along the Illyrian coast, six thousand one hundred and fifty stades, so too these two claims are both false: Dicaearchus' statement that the distance from the strait to the Pillars is seven thousand stades, and the result that you think you have proved.

For most authorities agree in saying that the distance across the open sea is twelve thousand stades.

How could one not reasonably think that Antiphanes of Berge had been surpassed in extravagance and sheer madness, and that he had left no excess of folly at all for later generations?

Chapter 7 Polybius Corrects Eratosthenes on Europe

Next he corrects Eratosthenes, speaking rightly in some matters, but in others worse than Eratosthenes himself.

For when Eratosthenes said that the distance from Ithaca to Corcyra was three hundred stades, Polybius says that it is more than nine hundred; and when Eratosthenes gave nine hundred stades from Epidamnus to Thessalonice, Polybius says it is more than two thousand. In this, he is right.

But when Eratosthenes says there are seven thousand stades from Massalia to the Pillars and six thousand from the Pyrenees, Polybius himself says, worse than Eratosthenes, that from Massalia there are more than nine thousand and from the Pyrenees a little less than eight thousand; for Eratosthenes is closer to the truth.

For the authorities now agree that, if one cuts short the irregular windings of the roads, the whole length of Iberia from the Pyrenees to its western side is no more than six thousand stades.

Yet Polybius places the length of the Tagus River itself at eight thousand stades from its source to its mouth, surely not including all its bends—for that is not the geographer's method—but speaking in a straight line; and yet the sources of the Tagus are more than a thousand stades away from the Pyrenees.

Again, he is right in declaring that Eratosthenes is ignorant of Iberian geography and that in some places he makes contradictory statements about it, since, after saying that its outer parts as far as Gades are inhabited by Gauls—if indeed they occupy the western regions of Europe as far as Gades—he then forgets this and, in his survey of Iberia, nowhere mentions the Gauls at all.

But when he lays down that the length of Europe is less than that of Libya and Asia together, he is not making the comparison correctly.

For he says that the mouth at the Pillars lies at due west, while the Tanais flows from the point of summer sunrise.

So Europe is made shorter than the combined length by the interval between the summer sunrise and the equinoctial sunrise; for Asia gets that much start, toward due east, within the northern semicircle.

Europe, however, projects in several headlands, and on this point Polybius has spoken better than Eratosthenes, though still not adequately.

For Eratosthenes said there were three peninsulas: one reaching to the Pillars, on which Iberia lies; one reaching to the strait, on which Italy lies; and a third at Malea, on which lie all the peoples between the Adriatic and the Euxine and the Tanais.

Polybius likewise sets out the first two, but makes a third at Malea and Sunium, on which lie all Greece, Illyria, and part of Thrace, a fourth at the Thracian Chersonese, where the narrows at Sestus and Abydus are—this peninsula is occupied by Thracians—and a fifth at the Cimmerian Bosporus and the mouth of Lake Maeotis.

Chapter 8 Lusitania's Acorn-Fed Tunny and Cheap Prices

Polybius of Megalopolis, in the thirty-fourth book of his Histories, while discussing the land of Lusitania in Iberia, says that acorn-bearing trees are rooted deep in the sea there, and that tunny grow fat by feeding on their fruit.

For that reason, one would not be wrong to call the tunny sea-pigs.

Polybius also says that these acorns drift as far as Latium, unless perhaps Sardinia and the neighboring island produce them as well.

When describing the prosperity of Lusitania—this is a region of Iberia, which the Romans now call Spain—Polybius of Megalopolis says in the thirty-fourth book of his Histories that, because of the mildness of the climate there, both animals and human beings are highly fertile, and the produce of the land never fails.

For roses, white violets, asparagus, and similar plants are absent there for no more than three months, while the seafood there is greatly superior to what is found in our sea in abundance, quality, and beauty.

There a Sicilian medimnus of barley costs one drachma, and a medimnus of wheat nine Alexandrian obols.

A metretes of wine costs a drachma, and an average kid or a hare costs an obol. Lambs are priced at three or four obols. A fat pig weighing one hundred minas costs five drachmas, and a sheep two. A talent of figs costs three obols, a calf five drachmas, and a yoke-ox ten.

The meat of wild animals was considered hardly worth setting a price on at all; instead, people exchanged it freely as a favor and a courtesy.

Chapter 9 Spain: Springs, Silver Mines, and Iberian Peoples

The inhabitants are called the Turdetani and the Turduli; some think these are the same people, others that they are different.

Polybius is among those who say that the Turduli live to the north of the Turdetani as their neighbors.

The fertility of the land also gave the Turdetani a gentle and civilized character, and likewise the Celtic peoples because of their proximity—or, as Polybius says, because of their kinship.

Dicaearchus, Eratosthenes, Polybius, and most Greek writers place the Pillars at the strait.

Polybius says that there is a spring in the Heracleum at Gades, with a short flight of steps leading down to drinkable water, and that it behaves opposite to the sea tides: at high tide it runs low, and at ebb tide it fills.

His explanation is that the breath rising from the depths to the earth's surface, when the ground is covered by the sea during the incoming tide, is blocked from its natural outlets; turned back inward, it chokes the channels of the spring and causes a lack of water.

But when the ground is laid bare again, it finds an open passage and frees the veins of the spring, so that the water gushes up readily.

Polybius, mentioning the silver mines around New Carthage, says that they are extremely large, about twenty stades from the city, and enclosed within a circuit of four hundred stades.

There forty thousand workers live, and at that time they brought in for the Roman people twenty-five thousand drachmas each day.

As for the rest of the working process, I pass it over—it would take too long—but he says that the silver-bearing ore is crushed and washed through sieves in water; then the sediment is crushed again, and after being filtered again and the water poured off, it is crushed once more.

When the fifth sediment has been smelted, and the lead has been run off, the pure silver is extracted.

Polybius also says that the Ana and the Baetis both flow from Celtiberia, about nine hundred stades apart from one another.

Polybius, in going through the peoples and territories of the Vaccaei and the Celtiberians, includes among their other cities Segesama and Intercatia.

In its design and splendor it resembles the palace of a certain Iberian king mentioned by Polybius.

He says that this king rivaled the luxury of the Phaeacians, except that the mixing bowls standing in the middle of the house, though made of silver and gold, were full of barley wine.

Chapter 10 Gaul and the Alps: Fish, Gold, and Lakes

Polybius, in the thirty-fourth book of his Histories, says that from the Pyrenees to the river Narbo there is a plain, through which flow the rivers Illeberis and Rhoscynus, passing by cities of the same names inhabited by Gauls.

In this plain are found what are called underground fish.

The plain has a light soil and produces a great quantity of agrostis grass. Beneath this, because the ground is sandy to a depth of two or three cubits, the water that spreads out from the rivers filters below.

With this water the fish also make their way under the ground during the overflow in search of food—for they are fond of the root of the agrostis—and so they have made the whole plain full of underground fish, which people dig up and catch.

As for the mouths of the Rhone, Polybius criticizes Timaeus, saying that the river does not have five mouths but two.

The Liger empties between the Pictones and the Namnitae. Formerly there was an emporium on this river called Corbilo, of which Polybius speaks when mentioning the fictions invented by Pytheas.

He says that none of the people from Massalia who met Scipio could tell him anything worth remembering when he asked about Britain, nor could any from Narbo or Corbilo, though these were the finest cities in that region; yet Pytheas had the boldness to tell so many lies.

Polybius also says that in these regions there is bred an unusual animal, shaped like a deer except for its neck and coat, and in those respects resembling a wild boar.

Under its chin it has a tuft about a span long, hairy at the tip and as thick as a colt's tail.

Polybius further says that in his own time, near Aquileia among the Norican Taurisci, a gold mine was discovered so rich by nature that, after scraping away only two feet of topsoil, one immediately found gold-bearing ore.

The vein was no more than fifteen feet deep.

Some of the gold was already pure, in pieces the size of a bean or lupin, and when smelted lost only one eighth; the rest required more working in the furnace, but was still highly profitable.

When Italians joined the barbarians in working it, within two months the price of gold throughout Italy immediately fell by a third.

When the Taurisci realized this, they drove out their partners and kept the monopoly themselves.

The same writer, speaking of the size and height of the Alps, compares them with the greatest mountains in Greece—Taygetus, Lycaeus, Parnassus, Olympus, Pelion, and Ossa—and in Thrace with Haemus, Rhodope, and Dunax.

He says that each of these can more or less be climbed by active men in a single day, and likewise gone around in a single day.

But no one could climb the Alps even in five days; and their length along the plains is two thousand two hundred stades.

He names only four passes: one through Liguria, nearest the Tyrrhenian Sea; next the one through the Taurini, which Hannibal used; then that through the Salassi; and fourth that through the Raeti, all of them precipitous.

He says that there are several lakes in the mountains, but three are large. The first, Benacus, is five hundred stades long and one hundred and thirty wide, and from it flows the river Mincius.

The next, Larius, is four hundred stades long and narrower than the first, and it sends out the river Addua.

The third, Verbanus, is nearly three hundred stades long and thirty wide, and it sends out the great river Ticinus. All these rivers flow into the Po.

Chapter 11 Italy: Coasts, Campania, and the Lipari Volcanoes

Quoted by Strabo, Geography.

Polybius says that at Capua a remarkable wine is produced, called Anadendrites, with which no other can be compared.

He says that the coast from Iapygia to the strait is three thousand stades by land, washed by the Sicilian Sea, but by sea voyage it is five hundred stades less.

They say that the greatest length of the Etrurian coast, from Luna to Ostia, is about two thousand five hundred stades, while its width inland toward the mountains is less than half that. From Luna to Pisa is more than four hundred stades; from there to Volaterrae two hundred and eighty; then from there to Populonium two hundred and seventy; and from Populonium to Cosa nearly eight hundred, though some say six hundred. Polybius is not correct in giving the total as one thousand three hundred and thirty.

Aethaleia, an island of the Tyrrhenians.

Polybius in the thirty-fourth book says that Lemnos is called Aethaleia.

The gulf between the two promontories, Misenum and Athenaeum, is called the Crater.

Above these shores lies all Campania, the most fertile plain of all.

Antiochus says that this land was inhabited by the Opici, who were also called Ausones.

Polybius, however, indicates that he regards these as two peoples; for he says that both the Opici and the Ausones inhabit this land around the Crater.

Polybius says that the distances from Iapygia have been measured in miles, and that there are five hundred and sixty-two miles to the city of Sila, and from there to Aquileia one hundred and seventy-eight.

Then comes Lacinium, a sanctuary of Hera, once wealthy and full of many offerings.

The lengths are not stated clearly; but for the most part Polybius gives the distance from the strait to Lacinium as one thousand three hundred stades, and from there across to the Iapygian promontory as seven hundred.

Polybius says that of the three craters one has partly collapsed, while the other two remain intact.

The largest has a circular rim with a circumference of five stades, but it gradually narrows to a diameter of fifty feet.

From there the depth to the sea is one stade, so that in calm weather the sea can be seen. If this is trustworthy, then perhaps the stories told about Empedocles should not be dismissed either.

He says that when a south wind is about to blow, a misty haze spreads all around the little island, so that even Sicily cannot be seen from it at a distance; but when a north wind is coming, bright flames

leap up from the crater mentioned above to a great height, and louder rumblings are sent out; the west wind produces something between the two.

The other craters are of similar shape, but weaker in the force of their eruptions.

From the differences in the rumblings, and from the point where the blasts, flames, and smoke begin, it is possible to foretell which wind will blow again on the third day.

He says that when ships were weather-bound in the Lipari Islands, some men there would predict what wind was coming and were not proved wrong.

So it appears that what seems most mythical in the poet was not spoken in vain, but that he expressed the truth in a riddle when he called Aeolus the keeper of the winds.

Chapter 12 Roads and Distances from Apollonia to Byzantium

Quoted by Strabo, Geography.

He also says other things that are not trustworthy: that the seas are connected by channels [...] from the fact that Chian and Thasian pottery is found in the Naro; that both seas can be seen from a certain mountain; that among the Liburnian islands is Titheis, with a circuit of five hundred stades; and that the Danube pours one of its mouths into the Adriatic.

Some statements of Eratosthenes too are misunderstandings shaped by popular talk, as Polybius says when discussing him and other historians.

From Apollonia to Macedonia the Via Egnatia runs eastward, measured out by the mile and marked with milestones as far as Cypsela and the river Hebrus; the total is five hundred and thirty-five miles.

If one reckons, as most people do, eight stades to the mile, the total comes to four thousand two hundred and eighty stades.

But according to Polybius, by adding to the eight-stade mile two plethra, which is one third of a stade, one must add another one hundred and seventy-eight stades, that is, one third of the number of miles.

It turns out that those who set out from Apollonia and those who set out from Epidamnus come together onto the same road after an equal distance.

The whole road is called the Egnatian, but the first stretch is called the Candavian road, from Mount Candavia in Illyria, and it runs through the city of Lychnidus and through Pylon, the place on the route that marks the boundary between Illyria and Macedonia.

From there it goes past Barnous, through Heracleia and the regions of the Lyncestae and Eordi, to Edessa and Pella, and on to Thessalonica.

Polybius says this section is two hundred and sixty-seven miles.

Since the distance from Perinthus to Byzantium is six hundred and thirty stades, and from the Hebrus and Cypsela to Byzantium as far as the Cyanean Rocks is three thousand one hundred, as Artemidorus says, the total length from the Ionian Gulf at Apollonia to Byzantium is seven thousand three hundred and twenty stades; Polybius adds another one hundred and eighty, counting the extra third of a stade on top of the eight stades in each mile.

The circumference of the Peloponnese, if one does not follow every inlet, is four thousand stades, according to Polybius.

When Polybius said that the distance from Malea northward to the Danube was about ten thousand stades, Artemidorus corrects this, and not unreasonably. According to him, the distance from the Danube to Malea is six thousand five hundred. The reason is that Polybius did not measure the direct route, but some incidental one that one of the generals had taken.

Chapter 13 Eratosthenes as the Authority on Asia

As for the regions lying directly beyond these as far as India, Artemidorus gives the same account as Eratosthenes. Polybius too says that, on matters concerning those lands, Eratosthenes is the authority one should trust most.

Chapter 14 Polybius Disgusted by Alexandria's Three Peoples

Polybius, who had himself been in the city, says that he was disgusted by its condition at that time.

He says that three groups lived in the city: first, the Egyptian and native population, sharp-witted and fit for civic life; a second, the mercenary class, a heavy, numerous, and unruly body. For from ancient custom they maintained foreign men under arms, men trained to rule rather than obey because of the weakness of the kings.

A third group was that of the Alexandrians themselves, not clearly suited for civic life either, for the same reasons, yet still better than the others.

For even if they were of mixed descent, they had nevertheless originally been Greeks and still remembered the common customs of the Greek people. But when even this element had been wiped out, chiefly under Euergetes Physcon, in whose reign Polybius came to Alexandria— for Physcon, whenever he was caught up in civil strife, repeatedly let the soldiers loose upon the crowds and destroyed them— with things in the city being in such a state, he says, the poet's words were literally true:

"To go to Egypt is a long and painful road."

Book XXXV

The 'Fiery War' in Celtiberia: Spanish warriors resisting Roman legions in the mountain passes (153–151 BC). Book XXXV, 1.

Chapter 1 The “Fiery War”

The war between the Romans and the Celtiberians was called the “fiery war,” for it was unusually fierce and remarkable for the frequency of its battles.

As a rule, the wars in Greece and Asia are decided by a single battle, or at most by a second one, and the battle itself is usually settled by the first charge and clash of the armies.

In this war, however, the opposite happened.

As a rule, nightfall brought the dangers to an end, but even so the men were unwilling either to lose heart or to give way bodily to fatigue, and after a withdrawal and a change of mind they would begin again with fresh resolve.

Indeed, the whole war and the sequence of pitched battles were interrupted for a time by the winter.

In general, if anyone were to imagine a “fiery war,” he could hardly think of any other than this one.

Chapter 2 The Celtiberian Wars

When the Celtiberians, after making terms with Marcus Claudius, the Roman general, sent embassies to Rome, they themselves remained quiet and waited for the Senate’s decision.

Meanwhile Marcus campaigned against the Lusitanians, captured the city of Nercobrica by storm, and then wintered at Corduba.

When the envoys arrived in Rome, the Senate admitted those from the Belli and Titthi, who were on the Roman side, to the city; but it ordered the envoys from the Arevacae to camp across the Tiber, because they were enemies, until the Senate should decide the whole matter.

When the time for the audience arrived, the praetor introduced the allied envoys first.

Though they were barbarians, [...] they spoke and tried to make every point of dispute clear.

They pointed out that if the tribes who had gone to war were not brought under control and punished as they deserved, then as soon as the Roman armies returned from Iberia they would fall upon the Belli and Titthi at once, treating them as traitors; and that if they escaped punishment for their first act of hostility, they would quickly set the whole of Iberia in motion, because everyone there would think them capable of standing up to Rome.

So they asked either that the legions remain in Iberia and that each year a consul be sent there to support Rome's allies and punish the Arevacae's wrongdoing, or, if the armies were to be withdrawn, that the Senate first make the outbreak of those men a warning example, so that no one else would dare to do the same.

That, or something like it, was what the envoys of the Belli and Titthi, Rome's allies, said.

After that the envoys from the enemy were brought in.

The Arevacae came forward and, in their speech, affected submission and humility; but their actual intentions clearly showed no surrender and no defeat.

For they often hinted at the uncertainty of Fortune, and by describing the battles that had already been fought as indecisive, they left the impression that in every case they had had the better of the contest.

The end of their speech was this: if they had to endure some fixed penalty for their ignorance, they were ready to accept it; but once that was done, they asked to be restored to the terms of their agreement with the Senate under Tiberius Gracchus.

Chapter 3 The Senate's Instructions to Marcellus

The senators, after hearing both sides, then introduced the envoys from Marcellus.

But when they saw that these men too were inclined toward a settlement, and that the general was siding more with the enemy than with the allies, they replied to the Arevacae and their allies that Marcellus would explain the Senate's decision to both parties in Iberia.

Privately, however, they were convinced that the allies were speaking truly and in their own interest, that the Arevacae were still full of pride, and that the commander was afraid to fight them; so they gave the envoys from Marcellus secret instructions to carry on the war bravely and in a manner worthy of their country.

After they had thus resolved on war, they first decided to send another commander to Iberia, in place of Marcellus; for by then the new consuls, Aulus Postumius and Lucius Licinius Lucullus, had taken office.

They then set about their preparations with enthusiasm and on a grand scale, thinking that the fate of Iberia would be decided by this campaign: if the enemy were beaten, they believed that everyone would do what Rome ordered; but if the Arevacae succeeded in escaping the punishment hanging over them, not only would their own spirit revive, but so would that of all the other tribes as well.

Chapter 4 Scipio Volunteers For Spain

The more eagerly the Senate took up the war, the stranger the events became for them.

For Q. Fulvius Nobilior, who had commanded in Iberia the previous year, and the men who had served with him, reported in Rome the endless series of pitched battles, the great number of the dead, and the courage of the Celtiberians.

And since Marcellus was plainly shrinking from the war, a completely irrational panic seized the young men—one, the older men said, such as had never occurred before.

So far did this fear go that there were not enough men willing to come forward for the office of military tribune, and the posts were not completely filled, though in former times more men than were needed used to volunteer for them.

Nor would the men nominated by the consuls as legates to accompany the commanders serve.

And worst of all, the young men tried to evade the levies and came up with excuses that were shameful to make, improper to examine, and impossible to refute.

At last, when the Senate and the magistrates were at a loss to know what the end of this shamelessness among the young men would be—for they had no other name for it—Publius Cornelius Scipio Aemilianus, who, though still young, was thought to have been an adviser in favour of the war and had won a settled reputation for moral excellence and self-restraint, but still lacked a reputation for personal bravery, saw the Senate's difficulty and stood up to say that he was willing to go to Iberia with the consuls either as a military tribune or as a legate, since he was ready for either role.

He added, however, that for his own part a mission to Macedonia would be both safer and more fitting, for at that very time the Macedonians had in fact invited Scipio by name to come and settle the disputes raging among them.

But, he said, the needs of his own country were more urgent, and they called those who truly loved honour to Iberia.

This offer, unexpected from every point of view because of Scipio's age and his general caution, immediately won him great approval, and still more in the days that followed; the men who had earlier shrunk from danger, in order to avoid the disgrace of being compared with him, now began volunteering for service, some offering to serve as legates to the commanders and others joining the military register in groups and customary circles.

Chapter 5 Scipio's Spanish Campaign

A certain surge of feeling and a hesitation rose in Scipio's mind, as to whether he ought to join battle with the barbarian and fight him in single combat.

Elsewhere Polybius says that Scipio's horse was troubled by the blow, but did not completely collapse; so Scipio fell to the ground upright.

Chapter 6 Cato's Wit

When Scipio, for Polybius's sake, had appealed to Cato on behalf of the exiles from Achaea, the Senate debated the matter at length, with some supporting their return and others opposing it.

Then Cato stood up and said: "As though we had nothing else to do, we spend the whole day discussing whether old Greek men should be carried out by undertakers from our own country or from Achaea.

After the vote had been passed allowing the men to return, Polybius and his friends, after a few days, tried again to enter the Senate so that the exiles might recover the honours they had held in Achaea before, and they tested Cato's view on the matter.

He smiled and said that Polybius, like another Odysseus, wanted to go back into the Cyclops's cave a second time, because he had forgotten his cap and belt there."

[...]

Book XXXVI

The elders of Carthage surrendering their armour and catapults to the Roman consuls (149 BC). Book XXXVI, 4–7.

Chapter 1 The Third Punic War

Some may perhaps ask why I have not made use of dramatic speeches in narrating a subject and events of such importance.

That is in fact what most historians do: they arrange the arguments on both sides and present the speeches that could have been delivered.

As for myself, I have shown in many places in my history that I do not reject this practice altogether, since I have often reported speeches and political statements made by statesmen.

But that I do not choose to do this in every case will now be clear: for it would not be easy to find a subject more striking than this one, or material more abundant and better suited to comparison.

Indeed, no form of composition could be more convenient for me.

Yet I do not think it right for statesmen, on every question brought before them, to be ready with arguments and long elaborations, but rather to speak in the way appropriate to the particular occasion; and in the same way I do not think it right for historians to display their skill for the amusement of their readers, but rather, as far as possible, to investigate and set out clearly what was truly said, and, among such words, only those that are most timely and most essential.

Chapter 2 The Romans Find a Justification for War

This having long since been firmly fixed in everyone's mind, the Romans were looking for a suitable occasion and a decent pretext for outsiders.

They were in fact especially concerned with this point, and rightly so.

For the way in which a war is entered upon, as Demetrius says, makes victory seem more glorious and defeat more secure; but if the pretext is shabby and unworthy, the opposite result follows.

So at that time, while they were disputing among themselves about how outsiders would judge the matter, they nearly gave up the war.

Chapter 3 War With Carthage Resolved Upon

While the Carthaginians had long been deliberating how they ought to answer the Roman demand, the people of Utica forestalled their plan by surrendering their city to the Romans, and this left the Carthaginians in utter helplessness.

For there was still one hope left to them: if they also submitted and placed themselves under Roman control, they thought they would certainly win Roman favour; for they had never done this even in their greatest extremity, when they had been beaten and the enemy stood at their walls, and had never before surrendered their country.

But they lost the benefit of this idea because the Uticans had got there first.

For now nothing would seem novel or surprising to the Romans if the Carthaginians merely did the same thing.

So, with only two evils left to choose from—to accept war bravely or to surrender their independence—they held a long and anxious secret debate in the council-house and appointed five envoys with full powers, instructing them to do what seemed best for the country's advantage in the circumstances.

These envoys were Gisco, called Strytanus, Hamilcar, Misdes, Gillimas, and Mago.

When they arrived in Rome from Carthage, they found that war had already been decided and that the generals had actually set out with their forces.

Since circumstances no longer allowed them any room for negotiation, they made an unconditional surrender.

Chapter 4 Meaning of Surrender

We have spoken before about what surrender to Roman control means, but it is necessary to remind the reader briefly here as well.

Those who give themselves up to Roman control first surrender their territory and the cities in it, along with all the men and women living in that land and in those cities.

Likewise they surrender rivers, harbours, sanctuaries, and tombs—in short, everything—so that the Romans become complete masters of all these things, while those who surrender are left masters of nothing at all.

When the Carthaginians had made such a surrender and were then summoned into the council-house, the commander conveyed the Senate's decision: since they had acted wisely, the Senate granted them liberty and the protection of their laws, and likewise all their territory and all their other property, both public and private.

The Carthaginians were pleased to hear this, believing that, since they had had to choose between two miserable alternatives, the Senate had treated them well by allowing them the most necessary and

important things.

But then the commander explained that they would receive these concessions only if they sent three hundred hostages to Lilybaeum within thirty days—sons of men from the council and the Senate—and obeyed whatever orders the consuls might give them.

For a time they were at a loss as to what those orders would be, but they set out at once, eager to report the matter to their countrymen as quickly as possible.

When they reached Carthage and explained everything in detail to the citizens, the people thought that, in everything else, the envoys had acted with proper caution; but the fact that there had been no mention at all of the city itself filled them with great alarm and distress.

Chapter 5 Speech of Mago Brettius

At this moment, they say that Mago Brettius spoke with manliness and sound judgment.

He said that, as it seemed, the Carthaginians had two occasions on which to deliberate about themselves and their country, and that they had let one of them pass by.

For now, by God, there was no point in wondering what the consuls would order them to do, or why the Senate had made no mention of the city itself; the time for that had been when they were surrendering themselves.

Once they had done that, they must clearly understand that they would have to accept every order, unless it turned out to be utterly outrageous and beyond expectation.

Otherwise, they must then consider once more whether they would rather await war in their own land and suffer whatever horrors it might bring, or, in fear of the enemy's approach, submit willingly to whatever commands were imposed.

Since everyone, because of the war at hand and the uncertainty of the future, was inclined to obey what was ordered, it was decided to send the hostages to Lilybaeum.

Accordingly they immediately selected three hundred of the young men and sent them off with loud lamentation and tears, every one being accompanied by his nearest relatives and friends, and the women especially setting the whole scene ablaze with grief.

When they reached Lilybaeum, the consuls handed them over to Quintus Fabius Maximus, who happened to be the commander in Sicily at that time.

He conveyed them safely to Rome and had them all confined together in the dockyard of the sixteen-banked ship [...]

Chapter 6 The Roman Army In Africa

Once the hostages had been disposed of there, the generals brought their fleet to the citadel of Utica.

When this reached Carthage, the city was in a state of utter tension and fear because no one knew what to expect next.

Nevertheless, they decided to send envoys to learn from the consuls what they should do, and to make clear that everyone was ready to obey whatever was ordered.

When the envoys reached the Roman camp and the council had been summoned, they entered and spoke according to their instructions.

The senior consul praised their purpose and willingness to comply and ordered them to hand over all their weapons and missiles without trickery or deceit.

The envoys said they would do what had been ordered, but asked them to consider what would happen if they gave up their weapons and the Romans then took them and sailed away from the country. Nevertheless, they surrendered them.

Thus it became clear how vast the city's resources were: they handed over to the Romans more than two hundred thousand weapons and two thousand catapults.

Chapter 7 Panic at the Envoys' Report

In short, they had no idea at all what was about to be demanded of them.

But from the very look on the envoys' faces they suspected the worst and immediately fell into every kind of lamentation and crying.

All of them, crying out together, were at once as though paralyzed.

Then, as the report quickly spread through the people, the stupor no longer lasted: some rushed at the envoys, as though they were the guilty cause of the city's disasters, others turned their anger on the Italians who had been seized in the city, and still others toward the gates of the city [...].

Chapter 8 Character of Hamilcar Phameas

Hamilcar, also called Phameas, the Carthaginian general, was in the prime of life, strong in body, and, most importantly for war, an excellent and daring horseman.

Those who were jealous of Scipio tried to disparage his actions.

Phameas, however, seeing the Roman pickets, was not without courage; still, he avoided close fighting with Scipio. On one occasion he drew near the reserves, took up position behind the brow of a hill, and

remained there for a considerable time.

The Roman maniples withdrew to a hill; and when everyone had given his opinion, Scipio said:

“[…] when men are deliberating from scratch, and to take even greater care to avoid suffering harm than to do harm to their enemies.”

It should not be surprising that I give a more detailed account of Scipio’s actions and report everything he said with precision.

For when Marcus Porcius Cato heard in Rome of Scipio’s achievements, he said, in effect: “What have you heard? He alone has the breath of wisdom in him; the rest are but shadows.”

The Romans were altogether delighted with Scipio’s agreement and his handling of the situation: […]

Chapter 9 Opinions on Rome’s Treatment of Carthage

In matters concerning the Carthaginians, after the Romans had defeated them, and in matters concerning the so-called Pseudo-Philip in Greece, there were many and varied opinions; at first these opinions concerned the Carthaginians, and afterward again the Pseudo-Philip.

The judgments and discussions about the Carthaginians were in fact divided and uncertain.

Some approved of the Romans, saying that they had acted wisely and practically in securing their supremacy.

For, they argued, it was sound policy for men who think far ahead to remove the danger hanging over them and to make their rule secure for their own country by destroying a city that had often disputed control with them and might still, if circumstances allowed, dispute it again.

Others opposed this view, saying that the Romans had not set out with that intention to acquire supremacy, but had gradually slipped into a lust for power like that of the Athenians and Spartans, moving more slowly than those states but bound, to judge from present indications, to reach the same end.

For, they said, in the past they had always made war openly and continued until they had prevailed and forced their opponents to admit that they must obey Rome and do what was ordered.

But now, they argued, they had first shown their real purpose by their handling of Perseus and by uprooting the kingdom of the Macedonians from its foundations, and had now completed that same design in the case of the Carthaginians.

For although the Carthaginians had done nothing irreparable, the Romans had taken an irreparable and harsh decision against them, even though they accepted every condition and submitted to do whatever was ordered.

Others again said that the Roman nation was in general a statesmanlike people, and that this was one of their distinguishing traits and something of which the Romans rightly prided themselves: namely, that they fought their wars in a straightforward and honorable way, not using night attacks or ambushes, and rejecting everything that came about by deceit or trickery, claiming for themselves only those dangers that were open and face-to-face.

But now, they said, they had managed everything concerning the Carthaginians by deceit and trickery, advancing little by little with one proposal and then another concealment, until they had taken away from the allies every hope of helping them.

This was more fitting, they said, for a monarchic style of action than for a political and Roman one, and it came close, by right reason, to impiety and breach of faith. Some men, however, argued against this too.

For if the Romans had handled things this way before the Carthaginians had surrendered themselves and placed their country under Roman control, gradually putting forward one demand and disclosing another, they would reasonably have seemed guilty of the charges brought against them.

But since the Carthaginians had themselves surrendered, so that the Romans might decide whatever seemed best about them, and since the Romans then, within that authority, issued and ordered what they thought fit, the act could no longer be called close to impiety or even, scarcely, to breach of faith; and some said it was not injustice at all.

For there are three classes of wrong into which every accusation naturally falls, and the Romans' conduct did not fit any of them.

For impiety is wrongdoing against the gods, parents, or the dead; breach of faith is acting contrary to sworn and written agreements; and injustice is what is carried out contrary to law and custom. But the Romans were guilty of none of these things in the present case: they had not sinned against the gods, the parents, or the dead; nor had they violated oaths or agreements—on the contrary, they accused the Carthaginians of violating them.

Nor did they overthrow laws or customs or private trust: for having received from the Carthaginians, of their own free will, the authority to do whatever they wished, the Romans, when the Carthaginians did not obey their orders, had thus brought compulsion to bear on them.

Chapter 10 Rumors of the Pseudo-Philip

So much, then, was said about the Romans and the Carthaginians.

As for the Pseudo-Philip, at first the story seemed hardly believable: a sort of airborne Philip had appeared in Macedonia, contemptuous not only of the Macedonians but also of the Romans, and having no reasonable basis at all for his claim.

For the real Philip, as everyone knew, had died in Alba in Italy, about eighteen years old, two years after Perseus.

But three or four months later, when a report arrived that he had defeated the Macedonians in battle beyond the Strymon in the district of the Odomantians, some accepted the report, though most still disbelieved it.

Not long afterward another report arrived, saying that he was defeating the Macedonians in battle on this side of the Strymon and had control of all Macedonia; and when letters and envoys came from the Thessalians to the Achaeans asking for help because danger threatened them too, the event seemed astonishing and incredible.

For there was no appearance of probability or any reasonable explanation for what had happened. Such, then, were the feelings about these matters.

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Chapter 11 Polybius Summoned to Lilybaeum

When letters from Manilius reached the Achaeans in the Peloponnese, informing them that they would be doing well to send Polybius of Megalopolis at once to Lilybaeum, since he was needed for public business, the Achaeans decided to send him in accordance with the consul's instructions.

But we thought it right, in many ways, to obey the Romans, and so set aside all other concerns and sailed off when summer was beginning.

When we reached Corcyra and found there letters from the consuls that had arrived for the Corcyraeans, in which they explained that the Carthaginians had already handed over their hostages to them and were entirely ready to obey their orders, we thought that the war was over and that there was no longer any need of us at all, and so we sailed back again to the Peloponnese.

Chapter 12 Polybius Writing of Himself

One should not be surprised if at times we refer to ourselves by name, and at other times by more general expressions, as when we say, "after I had said this" or again, "when we had agreed." For since we are so deeply involved in the events that are later to be narrated, it is necessary to vary the ways we refer to ourselves, so that we do not keep repeating our name and become tedious through tautology, nor again say "I" and "for my part" at every turn and fall into an irritating manner.

Rather, by using all such forms and changing among them as the occasion requires, we should avoid, as far as possible, the heavy and burdensome habit of speaking too much about ourselves.

For such speech is naturally unwelcome, though often necessary when there is no other way to make the matter clear.

And indeed, as it happened, we were helped in this respect by a kind of fortunate accident: up to our own time no one, so far as we know, had inherited precisely the same name as ours.

Chapter 13 Fortune Reverses Callicrates and Lycortas

Through an unusual coincidence, the images of Callicrates were being brought in under cover of darkness while those of Lycortas were on the same day being carried out into the light, exactly as the original arrangement had intended.

This compelled everyone to remark that one must never use prosperity insolently against one's neighbors, knowing that this is especially the habit of Fortune: to overturn, by one's own devices and laws, the very men who established them.

The natural love of novelty in human beings is itself enough to bring about every kind of change.

Chapter 14 The Ill-Chosen Roman Envoys

The Romans sent envoys to restrain Nicomedes from his rashness and to prevent Attalus from making war on Prusias, and they appointed Marcus Licinius, a man crippled by gout and completely unable to use his feet, then Aulus Mancinus, who had such large scars across his head from a roof tile falling on him that it was astonishing he survived, and Lucius Malleolus, who seemed the dullest of all the Romans.

Since the business required speed and boldness, those appointed seemed utterly unfitted for the task.

For this reason, it is said that Marcus Porcius Cato remarked in the Senate that not only would Prusias be dead before the embassy arrived, but Nicomedes too would have grown old on his throne.

For how could they possibly move quickly, or what could their embassy accomplish if it had neither feet nor head nor heart?

Chapter 15 The Character of Prusias

King Prusias, though repellent in appearance and, by reasoned judgment, not without some better qualities, was in outward form only half a man and in military matters ignoble and womanish.

For he was not merely cowardly, but also a stranger to hardship and altogether unmanly in both body and soul throughout his whole life.

This is the last thing anyone wishes to find in kings, and the Bithynian nation wishes it least of all.

He was also accompanied by a great deal of wantonness in bodily appetites.

He was wholly untrained in education, philosophy, and the questions studied in those fields.

In short, he had no conception at all of what the good is, and lived a barbarous life like Sardanapalus, both by day and by night.

Accordingly, once the people under his rule caught a little hope, they immediately formed an unalterable resolve not only to think differently from the king, but also to wish to take vengeance on him.

Chapter 16 Masinissa, Fortunate King of Numidia

Masinissa, king of the Numidians in Libya, was the best and happiest of the kings of our own time.

He reigned for more than sixty years and was exceptionally healthy and long-lived, having reached ninety years of age.

He was also the strongest man of his time in bodily vigor: when he had to stand, he would stand on the same spot for a whole day, and when he sat down, he would not rise again.

He endured the hardships of cavalry service continuously, day and night, and suffered nothing from them.

A proof of his bodily strength: when he was ninety and about to die, he left behind a four-year-old son named Stembanus, whom Micipsa later adopted, along with nine other sons.

Because of the goodwill they had for one another, he kept his kingdom, throughout his whole life, free from every plot and every domestic stain.

But the greatest and most godlike thing about him was this: Numidia had previously been useless and was thought by nature incapable of producing cultivated crops, yet he was the first and only one to show that it could yield all kinds of cultivated produce just as well, having set out, for each of his sons, fully fruitful estates of ten thousand plethra each in separate allotments.

One might fairly and rightly say this upon his death.

Scipio arrived at Cirta on the third day after the king's death and settled everything properly.

Polybius records that Masinissa died at ninety, leaving behind a four-year-old child who had been born to him.

A little before his death, after defeating the Carthaginians in a great battle, he was seen the next day in front of his tent eating coarse bread and, when people wondered at this, saying that he did this [...]

Chapter 17 Fortune, Causes, and Greek Depopulation

Polybius says: in criticizing those who attribute events, whether public affairs or private reversals, to Fortune and Fate, I now wish to distinguish this matter as far as the method of factual history allows.

Where a human being cannot, God knows, discover the causes because they are either impossible or extremely difficult to grasp, one may perhaps have recourse to God and Fortune—for example, in the case of extraordinary and continuous rains or snowstorms, or, by contrast, droughts and frosts that ruin the crops, or similarly with recurring pestilences and other things like these, whose cause is not easy to discover.

Therefore, in such matters, since we cannot understand them, it is reasonable to follow the common opinion and, by prayer and sacrifice, seek to appease the divine and ask the gods what words or actions will be best for us and may bring an end to the evils that afflict us.

But where it is possible to discover the cause from which and through which the event arose, I do not think one should refer such matters to the divine.

Let me explain. In our own times, all Greece was overcome by childlessness and, in general, by a shortage of people, as a result of which the cities were deserted and scarcity followed, although there had been neither continuous wars nor pestilential outbreaks.

If someone were to advise us, in this matter, to ask the gods what we should say or do in order to become more numerous and better govern our cities, would he not seem foolish, since the cause is obvious and the remedy lies in ourselves?

For human beings had turned toward vanity and greed, and still more toward idleness, and did not wish either to marry or, if they did marry, to rear the children they had, but raised only one or at most two, so that they might leave them wealthy and pampered. Thus the evil grew quickly without being noticed.

For when there was only one child or two, and one was carried off by war and another by disease, it was obvious that the homes would be left empty; and, as with beehives, when the swarms are gone, the cities too, little by little, become helpless because of their emptiness.

For such things there is no need to ask the gods how we are to be freed from the harm.

Any chance person will say that we can best help ourselves by changing our habits; or, if not, by making laws so that children will be reared. On such matters there is no need of diviners or portents.

The same argument applies also in particular cases.

But in those matters where the causes are hidden or hard to grasp, one must investigate; and one of these was what happened to the Macedonians.

For the Macedonians had received many and great benefits from the Romans: collectively, they had all been freed from monarchical commands and taxes and had plainly exchanged slavery for freedom; and individually, as cities, they had again been released from great internal strife and civil slaughter through Roman favor. [...]

Yet because of the so-called Pseudo-Philip, many among them [...] they saw many of their own people in a very short time driven into exile, tortured, and killed, more than in earlier times under the true kings [...] of the Roman camp [...] at once regretted [...] the lawless acts committed against them before the Pseudo-Philip [...]. [...] Though they had fought against the Romans with Demetrius, and again with Perseus, and been defeated, yet fighting alongside a hateful man and showing courage for his kingship, they defeated the Romans.

From these things, who would not be puzzled by what happened? For the cause of them is hard to discover.

Therefore, in such a situation, one might say that the event was a divine affliction and that the wrath of the gods had overtaken all the Macedonians. This will become clear from what follows.

Book XXXVII

The sanctuary of the Muses at the foot of Mount Olympus. Book XXXVII, 1.

Chapter 1 Mouseion, a Place near Olympus

Mouseion, a place near Olympus in Macedonia: Polybius in his thirty-seventh book.

Book XXXVIII

Scipio Aemilianus weeping over the destruction of Carthage and quoting Homer to Polybius (146 BC). Book XXXVIII, 22.

Chapter 1 The Greeks' Misfortune Surpasses Carthage's

This book contains the culmination of the Greeks' misfortune.

For although Greece as a whole, and in particular its individual states, had often suffered setbacks, still the term and idea of "misfortune" could not be applied more fittingly to any of the disasters of the past than to those that have happened in our own time.

For one would pity the Greeks not only for what they suffered, but would judge them even more unfortunate for what they did, once one has learned the truth about each case.

Indeed, although the disaster that befell Carthage may seem to have been the greatest of all, one would perhaps judge what happened in Greece at that time to have been no less, and in some respects greater.

For the Carthaginians at least left behind some room for later generations to plead their case; but these men gave no reasonable opening even to those who would have wished to help them for the wrongs they had done.

And while the Carthaginians, once overwhelmed by the catastrophe, became unaware of their future misfortunes, the Greeks, watching their own disasters unfold, handed down their misery to their children's children.

So, just as we think those who live on in suffering after punishment are more pitiable than those who lose life at the moment of their disaster, so too the calamities that then befell the Greeks must be judged more pitiable than what happened to the Carthaginians—unless someone disregards duty and honor and judges everything only by material advantage.

If anyone doubts that what I have just said is true, let him recall and compare the disasters commonly regarded as the greatest in Greece with what I have now said.

Chapter 2 Earlier Greek Reverses Without Disgrace

Fortune seems to have brought the greatest fear upon the Greeks at the time of Xerxes' crossing into Europe. For then all of them were in danger, but very few came to utter ruin, and of these the Athenians most of all.

For, wisely foreseeing what was to come, they abandoned their country together with their children and wives.

The crisis did indeed do them harm, for the barbarians, once they became masters of Athens, destroyed it without mercy. Yet the Athenians earned no reproach or shame; on the contrary, they won the highest renown among all mankind, because they counted everything else of less importance and chose to share the same fortune as the rest of the Greeks.

Accordingly, because they had made a noble choice, they not only recovered their city and their own territory at once, but soon afterward were contending with the Spartans for the leadership of the other Greeks.

Later, defeated in their turn by the Spartans, they were reduced to such necessity that they pulled down the walls of their own city.

But here too one might say that the blame belongs to the Spartans, not to the Athenians, because they used too harshly the power that Fortune had given them.

The Spartans, in turn defeated by the Thebans, lost the leadership of the Greeks, and afterward, giving up their rule beyond their borders, were confined within the frontiers of Laconia.

And what is shameful in this, if, while contending for the noblest prizes, they failed so far that they withdrew once more to their ancestral dominion?

These events, therefore, must be called reverses, but by no means should they be termed misfortunes.

The Mantineans were forced to abandon their city when the Spartans broke it up and scattered them to live in villages; but in this matter everyone condemned the folly not of the Mantineans but of the Spartans.

Some time later the Thebans saw their own city utterly laid waste, when Alexander, intending to cross into Asia, supposed that by punishing the Thebans he would keep the Greeks in check through fear while he was occupied with his own undertakings.

But at that time everyone pitied the Thebans as men who had suffered unjust and terrible treatment, and no one defended this act of Alexander's as just.

Chapter 3 The Shameful Collapse of Peloponnesians and Boeotians

They therefore, after a short time and with some help received, once again lived in their homeland in safety.

For the pity shown by outsiders is no small comfort to those who suffer undeserved hardship, especially when one often sees that with the impulses of the many, fortune too changes, and those in power repent and set right the reversals of those who have suffered unexpectedly.

Again, at certain times the Chalcidians and Corinthians and some other cities yielded to the Macedonian kings because of the favorable position of their places and kept garrisons there; but everyone was eager to free those who were enslaved as far as possible, while those who had enslaved others were hated and regarded as enemies to the end.

In general, cities formerly tended to fail and go astray as a rule—some because they disputed over power and politics, others because they were betrayed by monarchs and kings.

So you would rarely find any on whom disgrace followed their downfall, or in whom the very name of misfortune remained.

For all who fall into unexpected disasters, both collectively and individually, should be counted as unlucky; but only those are truly called unfortunate whose actions bring shame because of their own folly.

In the circumstances then at issue, the Peloponnesians, Boeotians, Phocians, [...], Locrians, some who lived by the Ionian Gulf, and after them the Macedonians too suffered alike.

[...] not only in the number [...] of earlier ones, but also in [...]; in a word, they were not unlucky but suffered a misfortune as shameful and disgraceful as could be.

For at once they showed distrust and cowardice, and their actions brought about their downfall through [...]

Thus, stripped of all good things, some [...], while others also [...] into the cities then admitted the rods and axes, willingly [...]

For they were in great fear because of the excess of their own mistakes—if one should call them their own.

For I would say that the majority were simply ignorant and had gone astray from what was fitting, but that those who caused such widespread ignorance were themselves guilty.

Chapter 4 Polybius Defends Plain Truth in History

There is no need to be surprised if, by departing from the ordinary style of historical narrative, I seem to make my account of these matters more elaborate and more ambitious.

Yet some may perhaps criticize me as writing with hostility, when I, of all people, ought to have concealed the mistakes of the Greeks.

But I would never consider a true friend, in the judgment of sensible men, to be one who fears and shrinks from speaking plainly, nor would I consider a good citizen to be one who abandons the truth because of the offense that may be caused at the time.

Nor should a writer of public affairs be accepted at all if he thinks anything more important than truth.

For the more widely the transmission of what is written reaches people, and the longer it lasts, compared with what is said for the moment, the more the writer must value truth above all, and the readers must accept such a choice.

In moments of crisis it is proper for Greeks to help Greeks in every possible way—by defending them, by softening criticism, and by warding off the anger of those in power; and that is what we ourselves did in the actual events.

But in the written record that is passed on to later generations, the account of what happened must be left free of all falsehood, so that readers are not merely pleased for the moment by what they hear, but have their souls corrected so that they do not repeatedly make the same mistakes.

So let this be enough on this subject.

Chapter 5 Variety as Nature's Rest for Readers

I am not unaware that some will criticize this work, saying that I have made the exposition of events incomplete and scattered.

For if, after setting out to describe the siege of Carthage, we then leave it aside and pass in between to Greek affairs, and from there to Macedonian or Syrian or some other events, they will complain.

And, they say, those who love learning seek continuity and look forward to hearing the end of the account; for in that way both pleasure and benefit accompany those who pay attention more fully.

For my part I do not think so at all; rather the opposite. I could call nature itself to witness, since she does not allow any of the senses to remain continuously fixed on the same things, but is always inclined to change and wants to encounter the same things only at intervals and with variety.

This is clear first from hearing, which takes no pleasure either in music or in spoken performance if it remains always in the same posture.

Rather, what moves it is a changing manner and, in general, anything scattered, varied, and full of frequent shifts.

Likewise one could find that taste cannot remain fixed even on the most luxurious foods, but grows weary of them and delights in changes, often welcoming plain fare more readily than rich fare because of novelty. The same thing can be seen in sight as well: for it can least of all remain fixed on a single object, and it is variety and change in what is seen that set it in motion.

Most of all one could see this happening in the soul: changes of attention and concentration are, as it were, rests for men who labor hard.

Chapter 6 Polybius's Orderly Digressions versus Earlier Historians

That is why the greatest historians of old seem to me to have taken their rest in this manner: some by means of digressions into myth and storytelling, others by means of digressions into actual history, so that they not only make transitions within the places of Greece itself, but also include matters beyond it.

I mean, for example, that when they are recounting events in Thessaly and the deeds of Alexander of Pherae, they interrupt themselves to narrate Spartan activity in the Peloponnese, and then again the deeds of the Thebans, and further still those in Macedonia or Illyria; and then, after spending time elsewhere, they tell of Iphicrates' expedition to Egypt and of Clearchus' crimes in the Pontus.

From this one could see that all of them use the same kind of handling, but use it without order, whereas we use it in an orderly way.

For they, after mentioning how Bardyllis, king of the Illyrians, and Cersobleptes, king of the Thracians, seized their power, do not continue the story straight on, nor do they return to it later after an interval to pick up what follows, but, like a poem, go back again to their original subject.

Whereas we, having divided up all the most notable regions of the inhabited world and the events that occur in them, and always proceeding by the same method in keeping to the order of our arrangement, and also setting out the fitting events of each year in turn, make the return to the continuous narrative and the intervening events obvious to students, so that nothing incomplete or missing happens for those who are attentive to what has been said.

And that is enough on this subject.

Chapter 7 Hasdrubal Meets Gulussa in Full Armor

Hasdrubal, the Carthaginian general, was vain, boastful, and very far removed from real military judgment and skill.

There were many signs of his recklessness. First, he was present in full armor, fastened with a sea-purple cloak, when he was meeting with Gulussa, the king of the Numidians, and he had ten sword-bearers with him.

Then he moved forward only about twenty feet, having set up a trench and palisade, and signaled to the king to come to him, when the opposite should have been the case.

Gulussa, however, taking a simple and nomad-like approach, came up to him alone; and when he drew near, he asked what he feared that he had come in armor.

When Hasdrubal said, "The Romans," Gulussa replied, "Then you should not have given yourself up to the city at all, since you had no need to do so. But what do you want, and what are you asking for?"

Hasdrubal answered: "I ask you to act as an envoy to the general and to give every assurance that we will do what is ordered; only spare this miserable city."

Gulussa replied, “You seem to me, my good sir, to be asking for a childish favor.

For when you were acting as ambassadors from an intact position and the Romans were still at Utica, you could not persuade them; how can you now expect these things to be granted to you, when you are surrounded on land and sea and have nearly given up all hope of safety?”

Hasdrubal said that Gulussa did not understand the situation. For he still had fair hopes in his external allies; he had not yet heard about the Maurusians or the forces in the field; and he was by no means despairing of his own situation. Above all, he trusted in the aid of the gods and in the hopes he placed in them.

For the gods, he said, would not stand by and see them so openly wronged in breach of the treaty, but would give them many opportunities for salvation.

For that reason he urged the general, for the sake of the gods and of Fortune, to spare the city, knowing clearly that if they could not obtain this, they would be slaughtered before they surrendered it.

Then, after saying these and similar things, they parted, having arranged to meet again on the third day.

Chapter 8 Hasdrubal Spurns Terms and Feasts amid Famine

When Gulussa reported what had been said to the general, Publius laughed and said, “So this is what you were preparing to ask for after displaying such outrageous impiety toward our prisoners? And now you place your hopes in the gods, though you have broken the laws of men as well?”

The king then wanted to remind Scipio of a further point, especially that an end must now be brought to the business: for apart from all the uncertain things, the season of the consuls was already drawing near, and he said that this ought to be taken into account, lest, if winter overtook him, another man should come and take, without effort, the credit for his labors.

Accordingly, when these things had been said, the general announced that he granted safety to Hasdrubal, to his wife and children, and to ten households of his relatives and friends; and in addition to these he was to receive ten talents from his own property and to take out as many as one hundred of his slaves, choosing whom he wished.

With these humane terms in hand, Gulussa went back to Hasdrubal on the third day.

Hasdrubal in turn came out again in great style, wearing his purple robe and full armor as he walked, so that he seemed to outdo the tyrants of tragedy by a wide margin.

He was naturally a fleshy man, but by then he had also developed a large belly and had been burned beyond his natural color by the sun, so that he looked as though he were living at some festival, like a

fattened ox, and not at all like a commander amid such and so great a disaster—one that no one could even fully describe in words.

When he met the king and heard the terms offered by the general, he slapped his thigh repeatedly and, calling on the gods and Fortune, said that the day would never come on which Hasdrubal would see the sun and his fatherland ablaze at the same time.

For, he said, the country and its fire are a fine funeral pyre for those who think nobly.

So when one looks at his speeches, one marvels at the man and the greatness of soul in his words; but when one looks at his management of affairs, one is stunned by his baseness and cowardice.

For first, while the rest of the citizens were being utterly ruined by hunger, he held drinking parties and set out lavish second courses, displaying their misery through his own well-being.

The number of those dying was incredible, and so too the number of those who deserted each day because of hunger.

Then, by mocking some, abusing others, and killing others, he terrified the many, and by this means maintained power—a power that a tyrant would scarcely use even in a prosperous city, let alone in a city already brought low by disaster.

So I think it was rightly said by me that one would not easily find leaders of affairs more alike than those of the Greeks and of the Carthaginians at that time.

That will become clear when we compare them side by side.

Chapter 9 The Senate Instructs Julius's Commissioners

When Aurelius and his fellow envoys arrived from the Peloponnese and explained what had happened to them, saying that they had come very close to losing their lives altogether, and telling the story with exaggeration and novelty—for they did not describe the danger as something that had come upon them by chance, but as though the Achaeans had deliberately set out to make an example of them—the Senate was angered by what had taken place, and at once appointed the commissioners around Julius, sending them with instructions of this sort: that they should rebuke and censure what had happened, but in moderation; and that they should above all continue to exhort the Achaeans not to listen to those who urged them toward the worst course, and not to let themselves drift into hostility with Rome, but still now to make some correction for their previous ignorance by laying the blame for the error on those who caused it.

From this it became very clear that the Senate had given its instructions to Aurelius and his colleagues not because it wished to break the nation apart, but because it wanted to frighten and overawe the Achaeans' arrogance and hostility.

Some people, therefore, assumed that the Romans [...] by way of pretense, because the war in Carthage was still unfinished; but the truth was not like that.

The fact is that they had long regarded the nation with favor and considered it the most trustworthy of the Greek states; and although now they thought it necessary to alarm it because it had become overbearing, they by no means wished to make war on the Achaeans or have a full-scale quarrel with them.

Chapter 10 Sextus's Commissioners Confer with Achaeans at Aegium

When the party around Sextus, coming from Rome into the Peloponnese, met the envoys around Thearidas, who had been sent by the Achaeans to ask pardon and to explain to the Senate the offenses committed against Aurelius, the men just mentioned urged them to turn back to Achaea, saying that they themselves had instructions to discuss all these matters with the Achaeans.

When the party around Sextus had arrived in the Peloponnese and was speaking with the Achaeans in the city of the Aegians and using many friendly words, and when they set aside the charge against the ambassadors and scarcely felt any need of a defense, but accepted the event more kindly even than the Achaeans themselves, they urged them above all not to go any further in their error, either against the Romans or against the Lacedaemonians; the more sober-minded group welcomed what was said and was greatly ashamed, conscious of what it had done and taking before its eyes what happens to those who oppose Rome, but the mass of the people had nothing to say in answer to the justice of what Sextus and his colleagues were saying. They kept silent, but remained sick at heart and corrupted.

Meanwhile the party of Diaeus and Critolaus—and all who shared the same opinion—men who were the worst of every city, as if picked out on purpose, enemies of the gods and destroyers of the nation, accepted the gifts of the Romans, as the proverb says, with the left hand, and in their calculations they went completely astray.

For they imagined that the Romans, because of their affairs in Libya and Iberia, feared a war with the Achaeans and would put up with anything and say anything.

Thinking, then, that the moment was theirs, they answered the envoys with friendly words, saying that they would nevertheless send Thearidas and his colleagues to the Senate, while they themselves would accompany the commissioners to Tegea and there confer with the Lacedaemonians [...] so that some agreed settlement of the war might be reached.

By giving these answers they afterwards led the wretched nation into the folly that had long before been laid out for them.

And that, naturally enough, came about through the inexperience and wickedness of the men in power.

Chapter 11 Critolaus Stalls the Commissioners at Tegea

The end of the disaster was brought about in the following way.

When the commissioners around Sextus had arrived in Tegea and summoned the Lacedaemonians, in order to work out with them an agreement with the Achaeans regarding both the previous complaints and the pause in the war until the Romans should send commissioners to examine the whole matter, the men around Critolaus decided in council that the others should avoid the meeting, while Critolaus himself should go forward to Tegea.

So the man just mentioned came, by then, when those around Sextus had almost given him up entirely; and when the meeting with the Lacedaemonians took place, he agreed to nothing, saying that he had no authority to settle anything without the judgment of the many, but that he would carry the matter before the Achaeans at the next congress, which was to be held six months later.

Accordingly, when the men around Sextus had clearly recognized that Critolaus was acting in bad faith and were displeased by what he was doing, they dismissed the Lacedaemonians to their homeland and themselves returned to Italy, convinced of Critolaus' ignorance and madness.

After they left, Critolaus spent the winter going from city to city and holding assemblies, using as a pretext that he wanted to explain to them what he had said to the Lacedaemonians at Tegea, but in fact he was denouncing the Romans and interpreting everything said by them in the worst possible way, and by this he was working up hatred and hostility among the masses.

At the same time he ordered the magistrates not to proceed against debtors, not to accept those who were being carried off to prison for debt, and to suspend loans until the war should be decided.

From this kind of demagoguery everything he said came to be believed, and the masses were ready for whatever was ordered, unable to think ahead about the future and allured by the immediate favor and ease.

Chapter 12 Roman Envoys Driven Out of Corinth

Quintus Caecilius, hearing of these things in Macedonia and also of the confusion and turmoil that had arisen in the Peloponnese, sent as envoys Gnaeus Papirius and the younger Popilius Laenas, together with Aulus Gabinius and Gaius Fannius.

When they arrived at Corinth, where the Achaeans were assembled by chance at that very time, they were brought before the crowd and delivered many friendly speeches very much like those of Sextus, showing every effort to prevent the Achaeans from moving on to a more complete hostility toward Rome, whether because of the pretext supplied by the Lacedaemonians or because of hostility toward the Romans themselves.

The majority, however, could not bear to listen at all; they mocked the ambassadors and drove them out amid uproar and shouting.

For an assembly of craftsmen and manual laborers had been gathered there such as had never before been seen: all the cities were in a state of sheer confusion, and the Corinthians above all en masse.

Only a very few were strongly pleased by what the envoys were saying.

Critolaus, thinking that he had achieved his purpose, in the midst of an audience as agitated and frenzied as himself began attacking the magistrates, abusing his political opponents, and openly defying the Roman envoys, saying that he wished to be the friend of the Romans, but would not be pleased to have them as masters.

In general he urged them on, saying that if they proved themselves men they would not be lacking in allies, but if they proved effeminate they would not be lacking in masters.

With many such remarks, trading and maneuvering in this way, he stirred up and inflamed the crowd.

He also gave the impression that he was not acting at random in these measures, but that some of the kings and some of the governments shared his policy [...]

Chapter 13 Critolaus Wins a Vote for War

When some members of the council wanted to restrain him and prevent such speeches, he had the soldiers drawn aside, stood up, and told anyone who dared to come near, to approach, or even to touch his cloak.

In general he said that he had held himself in check for a long time already and could no longer bear it, but must speak what was plainly on his mind.

For they ought not to fear the Spartans or the Romans so much as those among their own people who cooperated with the enemy; for there were some who cared more for the Romans and the Lacedaemonians than for their own affairs.

He offered this as proof: he said that Evagoras of Aegium and Stratius of Tritaea revealed everything said in the secret meetings to the party around Gnaeus.

When Stratius admitted that he had indeed associated with those men and said that he would continue to meet with them because they were friends and allies, but swore that he had reported none of what was said in the meetings, few believed him, while the majority accepted the accusations.

Critolaus, by inflaming the crowd through these accusations, persuaded the Achaeans once again to vote for war—nominally against the Spartans, but in reality against the Romans.

He also added another unlawful decree, so that the men they chose as strategoi would have full authority. By this means he assumed a kind of monarchical power.

Having arranged all this, he went about stirring things up and laying hands on the Romans for no reason at all, but in the most impious and unlawful way possible.

As for the envoys, Gnaeus went off to Athens and from there to Lacedaemon to wait for events, Aulus went to Naupactus, and the other two remained in Athens until the arrival of Caecilius. That is how matters stood in the Peloponnese.

Chapter 14 Pytheas's Early Life

Pytheas was the brother of Acastides the runner and the son of Cleomnastus. He had lived badly and seems to have squandered his youth.

Likewise in public life he was bold and grasping, and had been shaped by Eumenes and Philetaerus for the reasons already mentioned.

Chapter 15 Diaeus Levies Slaves and Wealth

When Critolaus, the Achaean strategus, had died, and the law provided that if anything happened to the serving strategus the previous one should succeed to the office until the proper assembly of the Achaeans was held, the burden of managing public affairs fell to Diaeus.

So he sent troops to Megara and then went to Argos, where he wrote to all the cities ordering them to free their household-born slaves of military age—a total of twelve thousand men—arm them, and send them to Corinth.

He allotted the levy among the cities arbitrarily and unequally, as he did everything else.

Where the number of household-born slaves was insufficient, they were to make up the required quota from other slaves.

Seeing that public resources were severely strained because of the war with the Spartans, he forced the wealthy to make pledges and contribute privately, not only the men but the women as well.

Along with this he ordered the men of military age throughout the country to gather with arms at Corinth.

As a result, the cities became full of confusion, turmoil, and grief.

They praised the dead and pitied those who were setting out, and all wept as though they could already foresee what was coming.

They were especially distressed by the uproar and the burden placed on the slaves, since some had only just been freed and the others were already uplifted by that hope.

At the same time the men were forced to contribute against their own wishes whatever property they were thought to possess, while the women stripped themselves and their children of ornaments as though for a deliberate destruction.

Chapter 16 Panic and Madness in Greece

They were contributing to their own destruction.

For when all these things were happening at once, the shock of each separate event kept the people from taking a broader view of the whole and considering by what reasoning they ought to understand that they were all being led, with their children and women, into obvious ruin.

Instead, as though being driven and carried forward by some raging torrent, they followed the ignorance and confusion of their leaders.

The Eleians and Messenians stayed in their own territory, waiting for the danger from the fleet; nothing that happened then would have helped them if that cloud had appeared according to its original plan.

The people of Patrae and those with them had already suffered a setback in Phocis not long before, and what happened was far more pitiable than the disasters in the Peloponnese.

For some were driving themselves from life in reckless ways, while others were fleeing from the cities by back routes, leaving without any settled destination because they were stunned by what was happening in the cities.

Some were even handing one another over to the enemy as if they had become strangers to the Romans; others were informing and accusing their neighbors, though no one in the present situation had any need for such service; while others came as suppliants, admitting that they had broken agreements and asking what they would have to suffer, though no one was yet demanding an accounting.

Everything was full of a strange madness: people were throwing themselves into wells and off cliffs, so that, as the proverb says, even an enemy could be moved to pity by the calamity then overtaking Greece.

For in earlier times they had sometimes stumbled and gone wrong in general matters, sometimes through disputes over power and sometimes through betrayal by monarchs; but in the present period they suffered a acknowledged disaster because of the foolishness of those in charge and because of their own ignorance.

The Thebans abandoned the city en masse and left it completely deserted; among them Pytheas, after retreating to the Peloponnese with his wife and children, wandered about the country.

The enemy response seemed strange to him.

But I think, as the proverb says, that empty men make empty calculations; naturally, therefore, such people find what is obvious to be strange.

And he was thinking about returning home, as though someone who was ignorant of swimming and was about to throw himself into the sea would not be thinking first about whether to jump, but after jumping would then consider how to get back to land.

Chapter 17 Philon's Offer Rejected at Corinth

As soon as Diaeus was present in Corinth and had been made strategus by the many, the men around Andronidas arrived from Caecilius.

Beforehand, a rumor had been spread against them that they were in agreement with the enemy; and he put them before the crowd, so that they were seized with every outrage and dragged away in chains.

Philon the Thessalian also arrived, making many friendly proposals to the Achaeans.

On hearing these, some of the men from the country cooperated, among whom was Stratius, now an old man, who, entangled in the matter and urging them on, begged Diaeus to be persuaded by what Caecilius was proposing.

Those who sat in council paid no attention to what Philon said.

For they did not think that their safety was a common matter, but believed that those urging this were speaking because they privately placed their own interest and security above everything else. So they decided to think only of the immediate situation, even though they failed utterly in everything.

For since they clearly knew what they had done, they were in no way able to believe that they might obtain any mercy from the Romans.

And they never even considered for a moment that they ought to suffer nobly whatever was necessary for the sake of the state and the salvation of the many—as befits men who claim to be leaders of Greece.

But how, and from where, was such a spirit to arise in the men already mentioned? The men in council were Diaeus and Damocritus, who had just gained influence because of the present confusion, and with them Alcamenes, Theodectes, and Archicrates.

What sort of men they were, what each one's character and way of life and disposition was, has been explained at greater length elsewhere.

Chapter 18 Sosicrates Tortured and Fortune Spares Achaea

So when the council was in such a state, the outcome followed what those men had expected.

At once they imprisoned not only the men around Andronidas and Lagon, but also the subordinate general Sosicrates, accusing him of being the instigator of the plot and of agreeing to send to Caecilius, and in general of being responsible for all the evils.

The next day, after appointing judges, they condemned Sosicrates to death and, binding and torturing him, kept at it until they destroyed the man, though he said none of what they expected.

Lagon and Andronidas and Archippus were released, because the crowd had by then gathered in protest over the outrage done to Sosicrates and because Diaeus had taken a talent from Andronidas and forty minas from Archippus.

For even when he was, as the saying goes, in the ring, the man mentioned above could not stop his shamelessness and lawbreaking in this respect.

He had done something similar a short time before to Philinus of Corinth: he had brought a charge that Philinus was sending reports to Menalcidas and favored the Romans, and after flogging and torturing Philinus and his sons together, he did not stop until he had destroyed the young men and Philinus himself.

When such folly and such confusion were taking place among everyone—something one could hardly find even among barbarians—it is natural to ask how they did not all perish utterly.

For I would say that a crafty and resourceful fortune seems to have set itself against the folly and madness of the leaders; and, being pushed aside in every way by the ignorance of those in authority but wishing to save the Achaeans in every possible way, it came at the end like a good wrestler.

This was what allowed the Greeks to be brought down quickly and defeated easily; and that is what happened.

For this reason it came about that neither the Roman anger and fury were kindled still further, nor did the forces from Libya arrive, nor did those in authority—such men as I have described—get the upper hand and display their impiety toward their own people.

For what they would naturally have done against their own people, if they had seized any opening or advantage, is obvious from what has already been said.

And everyone at the time had this saying constantly on their lips: “If we had not been ruined quickly, we would not have been saved.”

Chapter 19 Scipio Rejects Caltrops at Carthage

When he had come through the wall and found the sea between them to be not very deep, while the Carthaginians were defending themselves from the citadel, and when Polybius advised him to scatter iron caltrops or throw in spiked planks so that the enemy could not cross and attack the

embankments, he said it would be ridiculous, after taking the walls and being inside the city, to proceed in such a way as not to fight the enemy.

Chapter 20 Hasdrubal Begs while His Wife Reproaches Him

When Hasdrubal, the Carthaginian general, came as a suppliant and fell at Scipio's knees, the general looked at those around him and said, "Do you see, gentlemen, how Fortune is good at setting before people an example of the reckless?"

"This is Hasdrubal, the same man who only recently rejected many humane offers made by us, saying that his country and its fire were the finest funeral pyre, and who now comes here with wreaths on his head, begging us for his life and putting all his hopes in us.

Who would not, seeing this before his eyes, take it to heart that one who is only human must never say or do anything arrogant?"

Then some of the deserters came forward to the edge of the roof and begged the men in front to hold back a little; but when the general ordered them to stop, they began to abuse Hasdrubal—some accusing him of perjury, saying that he had often sworn before the gods that he would not abandon them, others attacking his cowardice and, in general, the baseness of his spirit; and they did this with rough and hostile mockery and abuse.

At that moment, seeing Hasdrubal seated with the general, his wife came forward from among the deserters, dressed freely and modestly, holding the children by the hand on either side and carrying their clothing with her.

At first she addressed Hasdrubal by name, but when he remained silent and looked down at the ground, she called on the gods and thanked the general greatly, because, as far as it rested with him, not only she herself but also the children were being saved; then, after a short pause, she asked Hasdrubal how, without saying a word to her, he had deserted and privately secured his own safety from the general, and how he could so shamelessly abandon affairs and the citizens who had trusted him and go over to the enemy, and how, after that, he dared now to sit beside these men holding suppliant branches, men to whom he had [...] many times that the day would never come when the sun would see Hasdrubal alive and his fatherland burning at the same time; and yet [...]

[...] the rest of the passage is badly broken in the witness, but it clearly continues with reproaches about his shameful conduct and the children, and with the crowd's sympathy for the disaster and for Fortune's reversal.

Chapter 21 Fortune's Instability and the Great Man

[...] Polybius says [...] that [...] finer than this [...] and this has been said by the poet: [...] And turning at once and grasping my right hand, he said, "Polybius, it is a fine thing; but somehow I fear and

foresee that someday someone else will give this same order about our own country."

No clearer or more practical lesson than this is easy to state.

For to take account, in the midst of great achievements and the calamities of one's enemies, of one's own affairs and of the opposite condition, and in general to keep the instability of Fortune before one's eyes amid success, is the mark of a great and complete man, and one worthy of remembrance. —

Chapter 22 Scipio Weeps over Carthage

When Scipio saw the city [...] then utterly ending in complete destruction, it is said that he burst into tears and was plainly seen weeping over his enemies; and for a long time he stood absorbed in thought, realizing that cities, nations, and all sovereignties must change, just as human beings do. So it happened to Ilium, once a fortunate city; so too to the empire of the Assyrians, Medes, and Persians, and to the Macedonian power that had lately shone so brightly—whether he said this willingly, or whether the verse came to his mind unbidden:

"The day shall come when sacred Ilium shall perish, and Priam, and Priam's people of the spear-loving race."

Polybius asked him this boldly, for he had been his tutor, what he meant by the words; and they say that Scipio, without holding back, named his own fatherland plainly, since it was for her, looking to the fate of human affairs, that he feared. Polybius himself records these things as he heard them.

Book XXXIX

Roman soldiers playing draughts upon discarded panel paintings after the sack of Corinth (146 BC). Book XXXIX, 2.

Chapter 1 Aulus Postumius and Cato's Rebuke

Aulus Postumius became worthy of special notice in the following respects.

He came from a distinguished house and family, but by nature he was exceptionally talkative, garrulous, and ostentatious.

From childhood he had eagerly pursued Greek education and speech, and he knew so much of these things and was so saturated in them that, because of him, even the love of Greek culture itself became an offense to older and more serious Romans.

In the end he even attempted to write poetry and a work of practical history, in which, by way of preface, he asked readers to excuse him if, being a Roman, he could not fully command the Greek language and its stylistic handling.

Marcus Porcius Cato seems to have responded to this in characteristically apt fashion, saying that he wondered what justification there could be for such an apology.

For if the Amphictyonic Council had ordered him to write history, then perhaps he would have had reason to make such an excuse.

But when a man voluntarily enrolls himself, without any compulsion, and then asks pardon if he speaks barbarously, that is evidence of complete absurdity.

It is just as useless as if someone enrolled himself for the boxing or pankration contests, entered the stadium, and then, when he had to fight, asked the spectators to excuse him if he could neither endure the strain nor bear the blows.

Obviously such a man would deservedly be laughed at and get what was coming to him; and the same ought to be true of historians of that sort, so that they would not dare to overstep what is proper.

He was likewise eager in the rest of his life for the worst Greek habits: for he was pleasure-loving and work-shy.

This will be clear from the facts themselves: for he was the first man to be present in Greece at the time when the battle in Phocis took place, but he excused himself on grounds of ill health and withdrew to Thebes in order not to share the danger; yet after the battle was over he was the first to write to the Senate about the victory, adding detailed explanations as though he himself had taken part in the fighting.

Chapter 2 Soldiers' Contempt for Corinth's Artworks

Polybius, speaking with pity of what happened at the capture of the city, adds an account of the soldiers' contempt for works of art and for the dedicated offerings.

For he says that he was present and saw paintings thrown on the ground, and the soldiers playing draughts on them.

Among them he names Aristides' painting of Dionysus, of which some say the saying "Nothing to the Dionysus" was spoken, and the Heracles tormented by the robe of Deianeira.

Chapter 3 Polybius Saves Philopoemen's Honors

Because of the goodwill the people had long felt toward Philopoemen, they did not take down the statues of him that stood in certain cities. So true is it, in my view, that everything done sincerely produces in those who have been well treated a goodwill that is hard to erase.

Therefore one might justly apply the common saying: he has missed, as the proverb goes, not by a door but by a whole street.

There were many statues of him and great honors that the cities had decreed, but during the disasters that befell Greece at Corinth a Roman attempted to remove them all and to prosecute him, charging, as though he were still alive, that he had been an enemy of the Romans and ill-disposed toward them. But after speeches had been made and Polybius had answered the false accuser, neither Mummius nor the envoys would consent to destroy the honors of a distinguished man.

[...] he undertook to explain at greater length, in keeping with what we said about the man at the beginning.

The points were these: that he had often disagreed with the Romans over their commands, but disagreed only so far as to inform and persuade them on the matters in dispute, and that he did not do even this without good reason.

He said that the man had given a genuine proof of his policy, and had done a service rescued, as the saying goes, out of the fire, at the time of the wars with Philip and with Antiochus.

For at that time, though he had the greatest weight of any of the Greeks, both through his own power and through that of the Achaeans, he had kept faith with the friendship of Rome most truly; he had joined the Achaeans in the decree by which, four months before the Romans crossed over, they declared war from their own territory on Antiochus and the Aetolians, when almost all the other Greeks had become estranged from friendship with Rome.

The ten commissioners, having heard this and approving the speaker's attitude, granted that his honors should remain in all the cities.

Taking this opportunity, Polybius asked the general for the statues, although they had already been carried off from the Peloponnese to Acarnania—I mean those of Achaeus, Aratus, and Philopoemen.

The people, admiring his conduct in this, set up a stone statue of him.

Chapter 4 Polybius Refuses Diaeus' Confiscated Property

After the arrangement that the ten commissioners had made in Achaea, those same commissioners instructed the treasurer who was to sell Diaeus' property that whatever Polybius chose from among the possessions should be taken out and given to him as a gift, and that the rest should be sold to the buyers.

But the man mentioned above kept himself so far from accepting any such thing that he even urged his friends not to desire anything at all from what the treasurer was selling.

For the treasurer was going through the cities selling the property of all who had been associated with Diaeus and had also been condemned, except for those who had children or parents.

Some of these men paid no attention, but those who followed his advice won the very best reputation among the citizens.

Chapter 5 Polybius Settles the New Constitution

When these arrangements had been completed in six months, the ten commissioners, with the spring season now beginning, sailed back to Italy, having left behind for all the Greeks a fine proof of Roman intent.

As they were taking their leave, they instructed Polybius to travel through the cities and clear up whatever points the people found uncertain, until they had become accustomed to the constitution and the laws.

And after some time he did in fact do this, so that the people were brought, by argument, to accept the constitution that had been given to them, and no doubt arose about anything in the laws, either in private or in public.

For this reason the cities in general, from the outset accepting and honoring the man, and in later times especially when the things just mentioned were being done, honored him in every way with the greatest honors, both while he was alive and after his death.

Everyone judged that this was the right thing to do; for if he had not carried out and written down the laws concerning public jurisdiction, everything would have been left without order and full of confusion.

For this reason we must regard this among all the things mentioned above as Polybius' finest achievement.

Chapter 6 The Roman General's Restraint in Greece

As for the Roman general, after the council of the ten had departed from Achaea, he repaired the place at the Isthmus and adorned the temples at Olympia and Delphi, and on the following days he went from city to city, receiving honor in each and obtaining the respect appropriate to him.

And it was natural that he should be honored both publicly and privately.

For he behaved with restraint and purity, and in all matters he acted gently, although he had great opportunity and great power among the Greeks.

Indeed, even in those matters where he seemed to me to have overlooked something that ought to have been done, I did not think that he did it on his own account, but rather because of the friends who were with him.

This was most clearly shown in the case of the Chalcidian horsemen, whom he put to death.

Chapter 7 Character of King Ptolemy

When Ptolemy, king of Egypt, who had just become king of Syria as well, was struck in the course of the war, he died; and some judged him worthy of great praise and remembrance, while others judged the opposite.

For he was gentle and kind, perhaps more than any of the kings who had gone before him.

The greatest proof of this was the following: first, he never prosecuted any of his own friends for any charge, and I think that not even any of the other Alexandrians died because of him.

Later, when he seemed to have been driven from power by his brother, he first, at a favorable moment in Alexandria itself, treated the wrong done him as a matter for forgetting and returned no injury for injury.

And when his brother later plotted against Cyprus, and he became master of him both in body and spirit at Lapethos, he went so far from punishing him as an enemy that he even added gifts beyond those already promised in the treaty and undertook to give him his daughter as well.

Yet in moments of success and achievement he became unstrung in spirit, and a kind of Egyptian softness and laziness settled around him; and in such moods he fell into misfortunes.

Chapter 8 Polybius Recapitulates His Whole Plan

Near the end of his work Polybius says: “When we had brought these matters to a conclusion, we returned from Rome, as though we had achieved a kind of crown to our earlier political career, a fitting return for the goodwill between us and the Romans.”

Therefore we pray to all the gods that the remaining part of our life may continue in such things and depend upon such things, for we see that Fortune is truly jealous of human beings, and most especially in that part of life in which a man seems most blessed and most successful.

And so these things came to pass in that way.

Now that we have reached the end of the entire work, we wish, by recalling its beginning and the preface with which we set down the history, to summarize the whole subject, joining beginning and end together in both general terms and in detail.

Accordingly, at the beginning we said that we would make our starting point from where Timaeus left off.

Then, running briefly through the events in Italy, Sicily, and Libya—since he too had written history only about those regions—we came to the times when Hannibal took command of the Carthaginian forces, Philip son of Demetrius took the Macedonian kingdom, and Cleomenes the Spartan fled from Greece; and along with these came Antiochus’ succession to the Syrian kingdom and Ptolemy, called Philopator, to the Egyptian.

We further promised that, starting again from that point, when the 139th Olympiad was in progress, we would treat the common affairs of the inhabited world, setting them out by Olympiads, dividing them by year, and comparing the corresponding events until the capture of Carthage and the battle between the Achaeans and the Romans at the Isthmus, and then the restoration that followed for the Greeks.

From all this we said that the finest and most useful result for students would be to learn how, and under what kind of constitution, almost the entire inhabited world came under a single power, that of the Romans—something that had never happened before.

Now that all this has been completed for us, what remains is to make clear the times covered by the history, the number of books, and the extent of the whole work.

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